



ROUTLEDGE
HANDBOOKS



Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism

Edited by Reiland Rabaka

Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism

The *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* provides an international, intersectional, and interdisciplinary overview of, and approach to, Pan-Africanism, making an invaluable contribution to the ongoing evolution of Pan-Africanism and demonstrating its continued significance in the 21st century.

The handbook features expert introductions to, and critical explorations of, the most important historic and current subjects, theories, and controversies of Pan-Africanism and the evolution of black internationalism. Pan-Africanism is explored and critically engaged from different disciplinary points of view, emphasizing the multiplicity of perspectives and foregrounding an intersectional approach. The contributors provide erudite discussions of black internationalism, black feminism, African feminism, and queer Pan-Africanism alongside surveys of black nationalism, black consciousness, and Caribbean Pan-Africanism. Chapters on neo-colonialism, decolonization, and Africanization give way to chapters on African social movements, the African Union, and the African Renaissance. Pan-African aesthetics are probed via literature and music, illustrating the black internationalist impulse in myriad continental and diasporan artists' work.

Including 36 chapters by acclaimed established and emerging scholars, the handbook is organized into seven parts, each centered around a comprehensive theme:

- Intellectual origins, historical evolution, and radical politics of Pan-Africanism
- Pan-Africanist theories
- Pan-Africanism in the African diaspora
- Pan-Africanism in Africa
- Literary Pan-Africanism
- Musical Pan-Africanism
- The contemporary and continued relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century

The *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* is an indispensable source for scholars and students with research interests in continental and diasporan African history, sociology, politics, economics, and aesthetics. It will also be a very valuable resource for those working in interdisciplinary fields, such as African studies, African American studies, Caribbean studies, decolonial studies, postcolonial studies, women and gender studies, and queer studies.

Reiland Rabaka is Professor of African, African American, and Caribbean Studies in the Department of Ethnic Studies at the University of Colorado, Boulder. Additionally, he is a Research Fellow in the College of Human Sciences at the University of South Africa (UNISA). He is the author of more than 50 scholarly articles, book chapters, and essays, as well as more than a dozen books including: *Du Bois's Dialectics*; *Africana Critical Theory*; *Against Epistemic Apartheid: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Disciplinary Decadence of Sociology*; *Forms of Fanonism: Frantz Fanon's Critical Theory and the Dialectics of Decolonization*; *Concepts of Cabralism: Amilcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory*; and *The Negritude Movement*.

Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism

Edited by Reiland Rabaka

First published 2020
by Routledge
2 Park Square, Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon OX14 4RN

and by Routledge
52 Vanderbilt Avenue, New York, NY 10017

Routledge is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an informa business

© 2020 selection and editorial matter, Reiland Rabaka individual chapters, the contributors

The right of Reiland Rabaka to be identified as the author of the editorial material, and of the authors for their individual chapters, has been asserted in accordance with sections 77 and 78 of the Copyright, Designs and Patents Act 1988.

All rights reserved. No part of this book may be reprinted or reproduced or utilised in any form or by any electronic, mechanical, or other means, now known or hereafter invented, including photocopying and recording, or in any information storage or retrieval system, without permission in writing from the publishers.

Trademark notice: Product or corporate names may be trademarks or registered trademarks, and are used only for identification and explanation without intent to infringe.

British Library Cataloguing-in-Publication Data

A catalogue record for this book is available from the British Library

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data

A catalog record has been requested for this book

ISBN: 978-0-367-03066-7 (hbk)

ISBN: 978-0-429-02019-3 (ebk)

Typeset in Bembo
by Swales & Willis, Exeter, Devon, UK

For Pan-Africanists—past, present, and future



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Contents

<i>Acknowledgements</i>	<i>xi</i>
<i>List of contributors</i>	<i>xii</i>

Introduction: on the Intellectual elasticity and political plurality of Pan-Africanism <i>Reiland Rabaka</i>	1
--	---

PART I

Intellectual origins, historical evolution, and radical politics of Pan-Africanism	33
---	-----------

1 The origins and evolution of Pan-Africanism <i>Mark Malisa and Thelma Quardey Missedja</i>	35
2 The politics of Pan-Africanism <i>William Ackah</i>	48
3 The political economy of Pan-Africanism: imagination and renaissance <i>Abu Girma Moges and Mammo Muchie</i>	57
4 From Pan-Africanism to Black Internationalism <i>Charisse Burden-Stelly and Gerald Horne</i>	69

PART II

Pan-Africanist theories	87
--------------------------------	-----------

5 Black nationalism <i>Jeffrey O.G. Ogbar</i>	89
6 Neo-colonialism, Nkrumah and Africa-Europe ties <i>Mark Langan</i>	101

Contents

7	Pan-Africanism and decolonization: between the universal and the particular <i>Andrew W.M. Smith</i>	112
8	Africanization: historical and normative dimensions <i>Esperanza Brizuela-Garcia</i>	125
9	Black Consciousness <i>Ian Macqueen</i>	136
10	Afrocentricity <i>Molefi Kete Asante</i>	147
11	African feminism <i>Lyn Ossome</i>	159
12	LGBTQI+ People in Africa <i>Surya Monro, Zethu Matebeni, and Vasu Reddy</i>	171
PART III		
Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora		185
13	W.E.B. Du Bois: from Pioneering Pan-Negroism to revolutionary Pan-Africanism <i>Reiland Rabaka</i>	187
14	Pan-Africanism in the Caribbean <i>Rodney Worrell</i>	216
15	Pan-Africanism and the African Diaspora in Europe <i>Michael McEachrane</i>	231
16	Pan-Africanism in France <i>Annette K. Joseph-Gabriel</i>	249
17	“Long Live African Women Wherever They Are!”: Black women’s Pan-African organizing during the Black Power era <i>Ashley D. Farmer</i>	258

PART IV**Pan-Africanism in Africa 271**

- 18 Pan-Africanist in the court: W. E. B. Du Bois and his vision
of Ethiopian internationalism 273
Fikru Negash Gebrekidan
- 19 Kwame Nkrumah and Pan-Africanism in West Africa 289
Matteo Grilli
- 20 Amílcar Cabral, Cabralism, and Pan-Africanism: the dialectic of
revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization 302
Reiland Rabaka
- 21 Pan-Africanism and the anti-colonial movement in southern Africa,
1950s–1990s 317
Tavengwa Gwekwerere
- 22 Women in Africa and Pan-Africanism 330
Kathleen Sheldon
- 23 Queer Pan-Africanism in contemporary Africa 343
Adriaan van Klinken
- 24 African social movements 355
Franco Barchiesi
- 25 The African Union and the Institutionalisation of Pan-Africanism 373
Tim Murithi

PART V**Literary Pan-Africanism 385**

- 26 The History of Literary Pan-Africanism: Overview/survey essay 387
Christel N. Temple
- 27 Literary Pan-Africanism in African epics: the legends of Chaka Zulu
and Sundiata Keita 401
Babacar M'Baye
- 28 Literary Pan-Africanism in Caribbean literature 418
Kersuze Simeon-Jones

Contents

29	“... Black People, come in, wherever you are ...”: Pan-Africanism and Black internationalism in the Black arts movement <i>Anthony J. Ratcliff</i>	433
30	Maya Angelou’s Afrocentric journalism: a contribution to Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance <i>Simphiwe Sesanti</i>	449
PART VI		
Musical Pan-Africanism		463
31	Pan-Africanism in jazz <i>Karlton E. Hester</i>	465
32	Pan-Africanism in Funk <i>Rickey Vincent</i>	476
33	Pan-African Aesthetic: Pan-Africanism in Afro-Beat <i>Shawn O’Neal</i>	489
34	Hip Hop and Pan-Africanism <i>Harry Nii Koney Odamtten</i>	503
PART VII		
The contemporary and continued relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century		515
35	The contemporary relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century <i>Mueni wa Muiu</i>	517
36	Pan-Africanism and African unity <i>Guy Martin</i>	527
	<i>Index</i>	536

Acknowledgements

Editing the *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* has been one of the highlights of my intellectual life thus far, and I have drawn inspiration from far and wide, from the past and the present. Throughout the editorial process I have been in contact with scholar-activists and organic intellectuals from across the globe, and in my various communications with them I have been amazed by the ongoing interest in, and principled commitment to the evolution of Pan-Africanism. This *Handbook* was conceived of as an accessible, user-friendly volume that will expose present and future students, scholars, and activists to the Pan-African idea and movement and the ways this enduring idea and movement must continue to evolve to meet the needs of the 21st century. Consequently, it is only fitting that I begin the *Handbook* by sincerely thanking all of the contributors, whom I have come to call my “conceptual comrades-in-arms.” Each of them has made a special offering to my editorial vision and assisted me in my efforts to think through and expand the range, possibilities, and radical politics of Pan-Africanist and black internationalist scholarship. Assembling the chapters for this *Handbook* has pushed me to seriously ponder the politics of the scholarly anthology, the situatedness of knowledge within the discursive world of Pan-Africanism (and black radicalism), and the intended intervention I hope this volume will make. One of my many goals as editor has been to charge each contributor with the task of making their own distinctive discursive engagement with the Pan-African tradition, and to provide them with the stimulus to move beyond the conventional conceptual boundaries surrounding Pan-Africanism. In other words, the contributors and I are polyrhythmically dancing with the dialectic of tradition *and* innovation throughout this *Handbook*.

Immediately after acknowledging the contributors I would be remiss if I did not offer my sincere gratitude to the editorial team at Routledge who supported my vision for an international, intersectional, and interdisciplinary *Handbook of Pan-Africanism*. As the *Handbook* editor I am also indebted to the long tradition of Pan-Africanist politics and scholarship, which I detail in the subsequent introduction. To say thank you to all of the Pan-Africanists who helped to lay the foundation on which this volume has been built simply does not seem sufficient. Yet my conscience compels me to acknowledge our spiritual, intellectual, and political ancestors (*mababu, awon baba*) who paved the way for Pan-Africanism’s evolution into the 21st century. Lastly, I thank my colleagues, comrades, friends, and family for their support over the many years it took me to edit this ambitious volume. If I were to say thank you a thousand times (*asante sana, na gode sosai, daalu nke ukwuu, ke leboha haholo, ndokutenda zvikuru, aad ayaad u mahadsantahay, hatur nuhun pisan, enkosi kakhulu, o seun pupo, ngibona kakhulu*, etc.), I would not have thanked each of you enough. Suffice to say, I pray the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* will be received in the humble spirit in which it is being offered.

Reiland Rabaka
Boulder, Colorado
July 2019

Contributors

William Ackah is Lecturer in the Department of Geography at Birkbeck University of London. He is current Chair of the Transatlantic Roundtable on Religion and Race an international organization that brings together academics, community activists and church leaders with the aim of tackling injustices faced by people of African descent around the world. He is the co-editor with Jualynne Dodson and R. Drew Smith of *Religion, Culture and Spirituality in Africa and the African Diaspora*. And his most recent work is “Ethics from the Underside” in Brent Steele and Eric Heinze, ed., *The Routledge Handbook of Ethics and International Relations*.

Molefi Kete Asante is an activist intellectual who is currently Professor and Chair of the Department of Africology and African American Studies at Temple University, Pennsylvania. He is also President of the Molefi Kete Asante Institute for Afrocentric Studies. Asante is a Guest Professor at Zhejiang University, Hangzhou, China, and Professor Extraordinarius at the University of South Africa. He has written 85 books, including *Afrocentricity*, *The Afrocentric Idea*, *Kemet*, *Afrocentricity*, and *Knowledge*, *The Afrocentric Manifesto: Toward an African Renaissance*, *The History of Africa: The Quest for Eternal Harmony*, and *The African American People: A Global History*.

Franco Barchiesi is Associate Professor in the Department of Comparative Studies and the Department of African American and African Studies at the Ohio State University. He is a former fellow at the Hutchins Center, Harvard University, and a current Senior Editor of *International Labor and Working-Class History*. Among his publications is *Precarious Liberation: Workers, the State, and Contested Social Citizenship in Postapartheid South Africa* (State University of New York Press, 2011). His research is on how labor regimes and ideologies of work structurally ground modern liberalism in anti-Black violence.

Esperanza Brizuela-Garcia was born in Mexico City, Mexico. She received the equivalent to a BA in History from the National Autonomous University of Mexico (UNAM), and completed an MA in Area Studies (Africa) and a Ph.D in African History at the School of Oriental and African Studies. Her research interests include historiography, intellectual history and the philosophy of history. Currently Dr. Brizuela-Garcia is working on a manuscript that examines the development of Anglophone Africanist historiography and its impact on the historical discipline. She is an Associate Professor at Montclair State University in New Jersey (USA) where she teaches courses on African history, historiography, historical methodology, and historical theory.

Charisse Burden-Stelly is an Assistant Professor of Africana Studies and Political Science at Carleton College, Minnesota. She is a scholar of radical black critical and political theory, political economy, and intellectual history. She is the co-author, with Gerald Horne, of *W. E.B. Du Bois: A Life in American History*, and is currently working on two single-authored book projects: *The Radical Horizon of Black Betrayal: Anticommunism and Racial Capitalism in the United States, 1917-1954* and *Epistemologies of Blackness*. In 2017, Dr. Burden-Stelly received the National Conference of Black Political Scientists' Alex Willingham Best Political Theory Paper Award. She has several book chapters and articles forthcoming, and her published work appears in journals including *Souls: A Critical Journal of Politics, Culture, and Society* and *The CLR James Journal*.

Ashley D. Farmer is Assistant Professor of African and African Diaspora Studies and History at the University of Texas in Austin. She is a historian of black women's history, intellectual history, and radical politics. Farmer is the author of *Remaking Black Power: How Black Women Transformed an Era*, the first comprehensive study of Black women's intellectual production and activism in the Black Power Era and a co-editor of *New Perspectives on the Black Intellectual Tradition* an anthology that examines four central themes within the black intellectual tradition.

Fikru Negash Gebrekidan received his Ph.D from Michigan State University in 2001 in the field of African History, with minor fields in African American History and Comparative Black History. From 2001 to 2003 he taught African history at West Virginia University in Morgantown as a visiting Assistant Professor. Since 2003 he has been teaching history at St. Thomas University in Fredericton, Canada, where he now holds the rank of Associate Professor. Topics on which he regularly teaches include Africa, genocide, race and racism, slavery, historiography, and disability. He is the author of *Bond Without Blood: A History of Ethiopian and New World Black Relations, 1896-1991*. Other publications have appeared in *Northeast African Studies*, *African Studies Review*, *International Journal of Ethiopian Studies*, *Journal of Ethiopian Studies*, and *Callaloo*. His latest publication is entitled "Horn of Africa and the Black Anticolonial Imaginary: 1896-1915," in *Palgrave Handbook of African Colonial and Post-colonial History*, edited by Martin Shanguhya and Toyin Falola.

Matteo Grilli is a Post-Doctoral Fellow at the International Studies Group of the University of the Free State. He is an historian specialized in decolonization and Pan-Africanism but stretching his interest of research also to European migrations in Africa. He published articles in *History in Africa*, *South African Historical Journal* and *African Historical Review*. He published *Nkrumaism and African Nationalism: Ghana's Pan-African Foreign Policy in the Age of Decolonization* with Palgrave Macmillan in 2018. He is currently editing together with Dr. Frank Gerits a book entitled *Visions of African Unity: New Perspectives on the History of Pan-Africanism, OAU/AU and African Regional Unification Projects*.

Tavengwa Gwekwerere is an Assistant Professor in the Department of Pan-African Studies at California State University, Los Angeles. He received his Ph.D. in African Literature at the University of South Africa and his MA and BA at the University of Zimbabwe. Dr. Gwekwerere has published in the *Western Journal of Black Studies*, *Zambezia*, *Journal of Black Studies* and the *South African Journal of African Languages*, among other journals.

Contributors

Karlton E. Hester, Ph.D (composer/flutist/saxophonist/scholar), founder and Director of Hesterian Musicism (a name and concept coin initially for an LP album released in 1982), received his Ph.D in composition from the City University of New York Graduate Center and is currently Director of “Jazz” Studies at the University of California in Santa Cruz. Hester served as the Herbert Gussman Director of Jazz Studies at Cornell University from 1991–2001. He specializes in premeditated, spontaneous, and electro-acoustic composition ranging from solo cycles for various woodwinds to chamber configurations, music videos and electro-acoustic symphonic works. He has been the recipient of numerous composer fellowships, grants, and commissions.

Gerald Horne is Moores Professor of History and African American Studies at the University of Houston, and has published three dozen books including, *The Counter-Revolution of 1776: Slave Resistance and the Origins of the USA*, *Race War!: White Supremacy and the Japanese Attack on the British Empire*, *The Rise and Fall of the Associated Negro Press: Claude Barnett’s Pan-African News and the Jim Crow Paradox*, and *The Apocalypse of Settler Colonialism: The Roots of Slavery, White Supremacy, and Capitalism in 17th Century North America and the Caribbean*.

Annette K. Joseph-Gabriel is a scholar of francophone literature, culture, and politics. Her research focuses on race, gender, and citizenship in the French-speaking Caribbean, Africa, and France. She is currently an Assistant Professor of French and Francophone Studies at the University of Michigan, Ann Arbor. Her book, *Reimagining Liberation: How Black Women Transformed Citizenship in the French Empire* is forthcoming from the University of Illinois Press’ New Black Studies Series. It examines black women’s articulations of citizenship through their work in anticolonial movements in Francophone Africa and the Antilles. Her articles have appeared in peer-reviewed journals including *Small Axe*, *Nouvelles Études Francophones*, *Slavery & Abolition*, *Eighteenth-Century Studies* and *The French Review*. She is a recipient of the Carrie Chapman Catt Prize for Research on Women and Politics and is the managing editor of *Palimpsest: A Journal on Women, Gender, and the Black International*.

Adriaan van Klinken is Professor of Religion and African Studies at the University of Leeds in the UK. His interests are in religion, gender, and sexuality in contemporary Africa, and his recent work focuses on Christianity, politics of sexuality, and queer activism. Among many other publications, he is the author of *Kenyan, Christian, Queer: Religion, LGBT Activism, and Arts of Resistance in Africa* (Penn State University Press, 2019) and co-editor, with Ezra Chitando, of *Public Religion and the Politics of Homosexuality in Africa and Christianity and Controversies about Homosexuality in Contemporary Africa* (Routledge, 2016).

Mark Langan is Senior Lecturer in International Politics at Newcastle University in the UK. He is the author of a recently published monograph “Neo-Colonialism and the Poverty of ‘Development’ in Africa” with Palgrave. His current research is focusing upon the impact of EU/UK free trade deals in Africa, as well as post-Cotonou arrangements between EU and ACP countries.

Babacar M’Baye is Professor of English at Kent State University in Ohio. A native of Senegal, he received his Ph.D from Bowling Green State University, Ohio. His research interests vary from Pan-African literature, film, and music to black postcolonial and transnational

cultures. He is the author of *Black Cosmopolitanism and Anticolonialism: Pivotal Moments, The Trickster Comes West: Pan-African Influence in Early Black Diasporan Narratives*, and the co-editor of *Crossing Traditions: American Popular Music in Local and Global Contexts* and *Gender and Sexuality in Senegalese Societies: Critical Perspectives and Methods*.

Ian Macqueen is a Lecturer in the Department of Historical and Heritage Studies at the University of Pretoria and is a research associate of the Society, Work and Development Institute (SWOP) at the University of the Witwatersrand, Johannesburg. He has published *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid*.

Mark Malisa teaches at the University of West Florida in Pensacola, Florida. His research interests are interdisciplinary and range from globalization, Pan-Africanism, critical theory to pedagogy. He has published books and articles on a variety of subjects including apartheid, genocide, qualitative research, youth studies, and social protest. Among his publications are *(Anti)Narcissisms and (Anti)Capitalisms: Education and Human Nature in Mahatma Gandhi, Malcolm X, Nelson Mandela and Jurgen Habermas* and *Masakhane, Ubuntu, and Ujamaa: Politics and Education in (Post)Socialist Zimbabwe, Tanzania, and South Africa*.

Guy Martin, a graduate of the Universities of Grenoble, France; London, UK and Indiana University, Bloomington, Indiana, taught at the Universities of Botswana, Yaoundé (International Relations Institute of Cameroon) and Nairobi (Institute of Diplomacy and International Studies). Between 1990 and 2004, he taught African Politics and International Relations at various U.S.-based academic institutions, including The American University, Clark Atlanta University, the University of Virginia, and New York University. In 2004, he joined Winston-Salem State University, where he was appointed Professor of Political Science in 2006. Guy Martin has published over 85 articles, contributions, and book reviews on various aspects of African politics and international relations. He is the author of: *African Political Thought*; *Africa in World Politics: A Pan-African Perspective*; and co-author (with Mueni wa Muii) of *A New Paradigm of the African State: Fundi wa Afrika*.

Zethu Matebeni is Associate Professor in the Department of Anthropology and Sociology at the University of the Western Cape, South Africa. Zethu's published research focuses on gender and sexuality, with specific attention on black lesbian lives, HIV/AIDS, LGBTQ rights and queer issues generally. She is the co-editor of *Beyond the Mountain: queer life in "Africa's gay capital"*, and *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI identities, citizenship and activism*. She is actively involved in queer activism in South Africa and her films, poetry, and essays have been published in numerous journals, books and blogs including blacklooks.org and AWID.org.

Michael McEachrane is a Visiting Researcher at the Raoul Wallenberg Institute of Human Rights and Humanitarian Law in Lund, Sweden. Among his publications are the collection, *Afro-Nordic Landscapes: Equality and Race in Northern Europe* (2014), and more recently, "Universal Human Rights and the Coloniality of Race in Sweden," in the journal *The Human Rights Review*, and the chapter, "Situating Afro-/African Swedish Studies," in *Black Studies in Europe: A Transnational Dialogue* (2020). McEachrane is also a seasoned international Pan-African activist and, among other things, a founding and consultative member of the European Network of People of African Descent (ENPAD).

Thelma Quardey Missedja is a doctoral student in Instructional Technology at Ohio University, in Athens, Ohio. In addition to studying in the U.S., she previously studied in Ghana and Cuba. Her research interests include education and development (or underdevelopment), instructional technologies, cultural studies, and Pan-Africanism. She has made several conference presentations on intercultural studies and the Global South in general. She has co-authored an article titled, *Schooled for Servitude: The Education of African Children in British Colonies (1910–1990)* and has other research collaborations underway, including an article exploring the lived experiences of international students in rural U.S. universities.

Abu Girma Moges is Associate Professor of Economics at the Graduate School of International Public Policy, Faculty of Humanities and Social Sciences, University of Tsukuba, Japan. His research interest ranges from development economics, analysis of poverty and inequality, fiscal policy, and decentralization issues, and the emerging issues of global population ageing. He teaches, among other subject courses, international finance, health economics, and development economics.

Surya Monro is a Professor in Sociology and Social Policy based at the University of Huddersfield, UK, email s.monro@hud.ac.uk. Surya has published substantially in the fields of gender and sexuality, notably on LGBT and Intersex issues. She is the author of *Gender Politics: Citizenship, Activism, and Sexual Diversity* co-author of *Sexuality, Equality and Diversity*, author of *Bisexuality*, co-author of *Intersex, Variations of Sex Characteristics and DSD: The Need for Change* and co-editor of *Queer in Africa*. She is currently working in the area of Intersex rights, and continuing scholarly activities in the area of LGBT issues.

Mammo Muchie, Ph.D and SARCHI DST/NRF Research Professor, Tshwane University of Technology, Pretoria, South Africa, UoG and BDU, Ethiopia, Associate Faculty Professor, Sussex University, UK, and TMDC, Oxford University, UK. Professor Muchie founded the African Journal on Science, Technology, Innovation and Development (AJSTID) in 2008 and serves as its editor-in-chief. He has been given a number of awards: long dedicated and valued service awards, best institutional senior researcher of the year merit, academic excellence award, outstanding contribution to Science, Engineering, Technology (SET) and innovation by NTSF in South Africa. Professor Muchie's scholarly contribution to the discipline of innovation has been: strengthening and contextualising the theoretical framework of National Innovation Systems as applied to the African context. The principles and theory of the National Innovation Systems, as it is practised in the developed and industrial economies could not be applied directly to the developing or under-developed and largely agrarian economies of the African continent. Prof. Muchie took up the mammoth task of producing an impressive body of research on the innovation systems (in whatever rudimentary forms or degrees of evolutionary state they exist) in various African countries. He taught over 400 doctoral candidates in doctoral academies across the world in the Globelics, Africalics, Cicalics, Indialics networks. He has taken major initiatives for running Doctoral and Masters Academy in various universities in Africa and all over the world. One such academy is recently organized by the Association of Common Wealth Universities. Also, he has been invited for many keynote addresses and lectures in Africa and world-wide. He is the Founder of the Africa Post-Graduate Academy that has been training masters and doctoral students drawn from different disciplinary backgrounds applying the unity of knowledge approach to upgrade quality supervision. He has published over 400 papers, book chapters, articles, and given over 100 keynotes.

Mueni wa Muui is a graduate of the University of the District of Columbia (Political Science) and Howard University (African Studies and Political Science) in Washington D.C. Muui's articles have been published in *African Journal of International Affairs*, *Journal of Third World Studies*, *Journal of African and Asian Studies* and in *Social Research*. Two of Muui's books have been published by Palgrave Macmillan: *The Pitfalls of Liberalism and Late Nationalism in South Africa* and *A New Paradigm of the African State: Fundi wa Afrika* (with Guy Martin). Muui is Associate Professor of Political Science at Winston Salem State University, North Carolina.

Tim Murithi is Extraordinary Professor of African Studies, Centre for African and Gender Studies, University of the Free State, South Africa, and Head, Peacebuilding Interventions Programme, Institute for Justice and Reconciliation, Cape Town. He has 25 years of experience in peace, security, governance, transitional justice, and development in Africa, and has held positions with: Institute for Security Studies, Addis Ababa; Department for Political Studies, and Centre for Conflict Resolution, University of Cape Town; United Nations Institute for Training and Research, Geneva; Nordic Africa Institute; Department of Peace and Conflict Research, Uppsala University, Sweden; Department of Peace Studies, University of Bradford, United Kingdom. He has written over 100 journal articles, book chapters and policy papers. He is author and editor of 11 books including as author: *The African Union: Pan-Africanism, Peacebuilding and Development*; co-editor: *The African Union: Autocracy, Diplomacy and Peacebuilding* and editor: *Routledge Handbook of Africa's International Relations*.

Harry Nii Koney Odamtten is Associate Professor of African and Atlantic History at Santa Clara University and an intellectual and social historian. He is the 2018 Francisco Jiménez Inclusive Excellence Award for Faculty recipient, and a Compton Africa Peace Fellow. He is also an editor for the *Journal of West African History*, and has been published in various journals and edited volumes on Black Intellectual History, Pan-Africanism, Public Culture and Hip-Hop, and African and African-American Women and Gender Studies. Odamtten is author of the recently released book, *Edward W. Blyden's Intellectuals Transformations: Afropublicanism, Pan-Africanism, Islam and the Indigenous West African Church*.

Jeffrey O.G. Ogbar is a Professor of History and Founding Director of the Center for the Study of Popular Music at the University of Connecticut. He is the author and editor of several books and scholarly articles. He earned his BA at Morehouse College and Ph.D at Indiana University.

Shawn O'Neal is a musician, DJ, sound designer, training musicologist, and Ph.D Candidate in the Ethnic Studies Department at the University of Colorado Boulder. The themes of my work in *The Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism*, "Pan African Aesthetic: Pan-Africanism in Afro-Beat," formulates operational demarcations of Pan African artful appearances, utilizing Fela Kuti and his female Africana influences as the artistic representations of Pan African ideologies. This chapter is additionally an introduction of a neoteric, social science-theoretical concept deemed "audio intersectionality." As a collector, creator, and purveyor of exotic musical expressions, this production will conjure future literary and audio outputs.

Lyn Ossome is Senior Research Fellow at the Makerere Institute of Social Research (MISR), Makerere University. Her doctorate is in Political Studies, with specializations in the fields of feminist political economy and feminist political theory. Her research interests

Contributors

are in land and agrarian studies, gendered labour and the political economy of gendered violence. She is the author most recently of *Gender, Ethnicity and Violence in Kenya's Transitions to Democracy: States of Violence* (Lexington, 2018).

Reiland Rabaka is Professor of African, African American, and Caribbean Studies in the Department of Ethnic Studies at the University of Colorado, Boulder. Additionally, he is a Research Fellow in the College of Human Sciences at the University of South Africa (UNISA). He is the author of more than 50 scholarly articles, book chapters, and essays, as well as more than a dozen books including: *Du Bois's Dialectics; Africana Critical Theory; Against Epistemic Apartheid: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Disciplinary Decadence of Sociology; Forms of Fanonism: Frantz Fanon's Critical Theory and the Dialectics of Decolonization; Concepts of Cabralism: Amílcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory; and The Negritude Movement*.

Anthony J. Ratcliff is an Associate Professor in the Department of Pan-African Studies at California State University, Los Angeles. He earned a Ph.D in African American Studies from the University of Massachusetts, Amherst in 2009. Anthony's dissertation analyzed the Pan-African politics of cultural struggle, focusing on the international dimensions of the Black Arts Movement. As a critical Hip Hop educator, his scholar-activism and teaching interests include revolutionary black arts and politics; black anti-authoritarianism; and the abolition of policing and prisons. When not in the classroom or mentoring students, Anthony is the Chapter President of the California Faculty Association-Los Angeles (CFA-LA).

Vasu Reddy is Professor of Sociology and Dean of the Faculty of Humanities, University of Pretoria. His research interests are genders, sexualities, HIV and AIDS, inequalities and social justice. He has published in these areas in local and international journals, as well as in co-edited volumes and co-authored monographs. Recent publications are *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship and Activism* (with Zethu Matebeni and Surya Monro), *Queer Kinship: South African perspectives on the sexual politics of family-making and belonging* (with Tracy Morison and Ingrid Lynch) and *State of the Nation: Poverty and Inequalities* (with Crain Soudien and Ingrid Woolard).

Simphiwe Sesanti is an Associate Professor at the University of South Africa's Institute for African Renaissance Studies (IARS), and the Editor of the *International Journal of African Renaissance Studies* (IJARS). He has taught in the Department of Journalism, Media and Philosophy at the Nelson Mandela Metropolitan University (NMMU). He has published in accredited journals on a variety of issues, including Education, Gender, African Philosophy, Journalism, Politics and Spirituality. He is an author of two books, a co-editor of one book, and a contributor of chapters in a number of books.

Kathleen Sheldon is an independent scholar with a research affiliation at the University of California, Los Angeles, Center for the Study of Women. She was an editorial assistant at the Marcus Garvey Papers Project at UCLA from 1990 to 1992. Her recent publications include *Historical Dictionary of Women in Sub-Saharan Africa*, 2nd ed., which won the 2018 Conover-Porter Award for a reference work on Africa, given by the Africana Librarians Council of the African Studies Association; and *African Women: Early History to the 21st Century*, a comprehensive overview of African women's history.

Kersuze Simeon-Jones is Associate Professor in the School of Interdisciplinary Global Studies, at the University of South Florida. She is Affiliate Faculty in the Department of World Languages and the Department of Women's and Gender Studies. Dr. Simeon-Jones teaches courses in Africana Studies, as well as Francophone and French Literature. She received her Ph.D in Interdisciplinary Studies (History and Literature of the Black Diaspora) from the University of Miami, Coral Gables. She completed her B.A. and M.A. in French and Francophone Philosophy and Literature at Rutgers University, with a Minor in Spanish Language and Literature. Her research interests include Intellectual History and Political Movements of the African Diaspora, Haiti's National History; Women's History within the African/Black Diaspora. She has published—in English and in French—numerous articles, book chapters, and encyclopedic entries. Her work include: "The Négritude Philosophy and the Movement," *Blackwell Encyclopedia of Postcolonial Studies*; "Noiristes: Black Power and Black Pride," *Digital Library of the Caribbean*; "Démences, Psychoses et Liberté Psychique dans *Le Cri de l'oiseau rouge*," *Ecrits d'Haïti: Perspectives sur la littérature haïtienne contemporaine*, Editions Karthala; "Masculinity in Hurston's Texts," *The Inside Light: New Critical Essays on Zora Neale Hurston*.

Andrew W.M. Smith is a historian of France and the Francophone world interested particularly in ideologies and strategies of resistance, and how identities are shaped by interaction with the state. His first book was *Terror and Terroir: the winegrowers of the Languedoc and modern France*, and he co-edited *Britain, France and the Decolonization of Africa: Future Imperfect?*. He has written articles on the Guinean artist and politician Keita Fodéba in *Historical Reflections/Réflexions Historiques*, and in *French History* about the 1956 Loi Cadre reform in French West Africa.

Christel N. Temple is Associate Professor and Chair of Africana Studies at the University of Pittsburgh. She is the author of *Black Cultural Mythology, Transcendence and the Africana Literary Enterprise, Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism*, and *Literary Spaces: Introduction to Comparative Black Literature*. Her scholarship has helped to define the scope of literary and cultural studies in contemporary African-centered and Afrocentric approaches to Africana Studies. Some of her key shorter works are on historicizing *Sankofa* in Diaspora practice, deconstructing post-racial and post-cultural discourses, and advancing the role of black cultural mythology in the emergent sub-field of African cultural memory studies.

Rickey Vincent is Associate Professor of Diversity Studies at the California College of the Arts. He is the author of the award-winning *Funk: The Music, the People and the Rhythm of The One* as well as *Party Music: The Inside Story of the Black Panthers' Band, and How Black Power Transformed Soul Music*. He hosts "The History of Funk" on KPFA radio in Berkeley, CA.

Rodney Worrell is a lecturer in the Department of History and Philosophy at the University of the West Indies, Cave Hill Campus. He is the author of *Pan-Africanism in Barbados: An Analysis of the Activities of the Major Pan-African Formations*. Worrell was a member of the Government of Barbados Task Force on Reparations. He is a member of the Pan-African Movement of Barbados.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Introduction

On the Intellectual elasticity and political plurality of Pan-Africanism

Reiland Rabaka

The idea of one Africa to unite the thought and ideals of all native peoples of the dark continent belongs to the twentieth century and stems naturally from the West Indies and the United States. Here various groups of Africans, quite separate in origin, became so united in experience and so exposed to the impact of new cultures that they began to think of Africa as one idea and one land. Thus, late in the eighteenth century when a separate Negro Church was formed in Philadelphia it called itself “African;” and there were various “African” societies in many parts of the United States.

—W.E.B. Du Bois, *The World and Africa*¹

“The idea of one Africa:” on the ideological evolution of Pan-Africanism

Building on W.E.B. Du Bois’s conception of “one Africa,” arguably the first and most important thing the *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* should do is provide answers to key questions such as: What is Pan-Africanism? When and where did it develop? What were its main intellectual antecedents (e.g., the Free African Society, African Methodist Episcopal Church, Ethiopianism, emigrationism, Sons of Africa, and American Negro Academy, etc.)? What are Pan-Africanism’s main tenets? Considering Pan-Africanism’s origins in the African diaspora, who initially developed it, and why? What is the relationship between Pan-Africanism and anti-colonialism/decolonization/re-Africanization? What were the Pan-African Congresses? What is the Pan-African Movement? Who are the major figures of the movement (both continental and diasporan), and what are their most important contributions to Pan-Africanism? How did Pan-Africanism influence the emergence and evolution of black internationalism in the twentieth century and subsequent continental and diasporan African freedom movements (e.g., the New Negro Movement, Harlem Renaissance, Renaissance Haïtienne [Haitian Renaissance], Négritude Movement, Negrismo Movement, Cabo Verdianidade Movimento [Cape Verdeanness Movement], Civil Rights Movement, Black Power Movement, Black Women’s Liberation Movement, Black Consciousness Movement, Rastafari Movement, Créolité Movement, Black Lives Matter Movement, etc.)? And finally, is Pan-Africanism still relevant in the twenty-first century?²

In *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*, Peter Olanwuche Esedebe stated that “[w]hen Pan-Africanism began” and precisely “who launched it will never be known.” Consequently, he admonished, “[i]n discussing the origin of Pan-Africanism, what one should look for is the period when the sentiments or concepts underlying it first attracted attention.”³ As Esedebe illustrated, from the eighteenth century through to the twentieth century, there have been numerous definitions and expressions of what might be loosely termed “Pan-Africanism.” Mention should also be made of the fact that what was called “Pan-Africanism” between 1900 and 1975 by the last quarter of the twentieth century and through to the first quarter of the twenty-first century is frequently dubbed “black internationalism.”⁴ Most Pan-African historians concur that modern Pan-Africanism commenced with the Pan-African Conference convened in London in 1900. However, few Pan-Africanists, historians or otherwise, have come to consensus regarding exactly what Pan-Africanism is and what it is not (or its exact relationship to twenty-first century conceptions of black internationalism).⁵

On the one hand, for some scholars and critics Pan-Africanism represents a kind of intellectual elitism, political conservatism, and intra-racial ethnocentrism. For example, Alexandre Mboukou asserted that the two most famous Pan-Africanists during the first half of the twentieth century, W.E.B. Du Bois and Marcus Garvey, both hailing from the African diaspora (America and Jamaica, respectively), ultimately intended to implement faux forms of Pan-Africanism. Instead of *decolonization*, Mboukou insisted, Du Bois and Garvey advocated for the *recolonization* of Africa and Africans under the auspices of supposedly more “civilized” and “modernized” diasporan Africans. Du Bois, we are told, was “imbued with the notions of ‘civilizing mission’ and ‘modernizing Black Africa,’” because he allegedly believed that continental Africans “were not yet fully modernized, and thus not capable of manning modern, complex institutions.” Hence, he “would only send educated blacks from the New World—mainly those from the United States—to train natives,” essentially applying his “Talented Tenth” theory to Africa. While Garvey, “who had conceived the grandiose scheme of a great Pan-African state,” in fact, “proposed creating a Pan-African state manned mostly by West Indians.” Even Garvey’s slogan, “Africa for the Africans,” Mboukou maintained, “was subtly predicated on the idea of rule by Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) members.” Garvey Movement leaders, Mboukou continued, were “almost exclusively ... immigrant West Indians” and, as is well-known, African Americans “constituted the dues-paying rank and file.” These were the diasporan Africans Garvey envisioned establishing his “grandiose scheme of a great Pan-African state.”⁶

On the other hand, for other scholars and critics Pan-Africanism registers as a radical, if not revolutionary, theory and praxis preoccupied with uniting Africans worldwide and countering the hundreds of years of dehumanization, racialization, and colonization continental and diasporan Africans endured at the hands of European imperialism from the fifteenth century through to the twenty-first century. This latter group of Pan-Africanists generally acknowledges the many mistakes that have been made in the name of Pan-Africanism and are particularly appalled by the often Eurocentric and “patronizing attitudes” many early diasporan Pan-Africanists held toward Africa and Africans.⁷ However, they refuse to privilege *embryonic Pan-Africanism* and its myriad misinterpretations of the Pan-African idea and movement over the core principles, radical political potential, and incessant evolution of *modern, mature Pan-Africanism*. As Du Bois demonstrated with his concept of double-consciousness, because of the severity of white supremacy and European imperialism there are longstanding transgenerational traditions of continental and diasporan Africans internalizing *anti-African racism* and the *diabolical dialectic of white superiority and black inferiority* (i.e., the dyad of

European supremacy and African impotency or, rather, European civilization and “African barbarism”).⁸

Without in any way apologizing for the “patronizing attitudes” of early diasporan Pan-Africanists, many of these *dialectical Pan-Africanists* readily remind us that “divide and conquer” was one of the key tactics European colonizers utilized to racialize, colonize, and enslave Africa and Africans.⁹ A key aspect of the “divide and conquer” strategy was the colonizers’ insidious desire to create disunity, distrust, and spread intra-racial misinformation and mayhem amongst the colonized. Embracing what I term *dialectical Pan-Africanism*, which critically engages and grapples with both the good *and* bad, the positives *and* negatives, and the beauty *and* ugliness of Pan-Africanism, this latter group of dialectical Pan-Africanists believe that the Pan-African idea and movement has helped much more than it has harmed continental and diasporan Africans in their quest to rescue and reclaim their humanity.¹⁰

Hakim Adi opened *Pan-Africanism: A History* by exclaiming “there has never been one universally accepted definition of exactly what constitutes Pan-Africanism” because “Pan-Africanism has taken different forms at different historical moments and geographical locations.”¹¹ According to Jabez Ayodele Langley in *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa, 1900–1945*, “Pan-Africanism is not a movement that should be boxed and frozen into epochs and categories.”¹² Likewise, noting the complexity of its trajectory, Kurt Young importantly observed that “Pan-Africanism has always been saturated with competing points of view on any number of topics.” As to be expected, Young continued, “canonical disputes will occur in any political tradition as old and complex as Pan-Africanism.”¹³ Emphasizing both the core elements and the constantly changing character of Pan-Africanism, in “The Historical Aspects of Pan-Africanism” Rayford Logan noted the Pan-African Movement’s evolution from moderatism to militatism:

The history of Pan-Africanism as a movement to encourage mutual assistance and understanding among the peoples of Africa and of African descent goes back to the beginning of the twentieth century, but it was only after World War I—that calamitous folly of the so-called superior races—that the movement as a whole began to have the ultimate aim of some form of self-government for African peoples. The credit for conceiving the idea of the Pan-African Conference that met in London in July, 1900, belongs to H. Sylvester Williams, a young West Indian lawyer. Among his aims were to bring peoples of African descent throughout the world into closer touch with one another and to establish friendlier relations between the Caucasian and African races. That he did not envision self-government or independence in Africa is evident from another of his stated objectives, namely, “to start a movement looking forward to the securing to all African races living in civilized countries their full rights and to promote their business interests.” It was William Edward Burghardt Du Bois, as Chairman of the Conference’s Committee on Address to the Nations of the World, who transformed Williams’s limited conception of Pan-Africanism into a movement for self-government or independence for African peoples.¹⁴

A couple of things should be noted here. First, Logan conceived of Pan-Africanism as a movement, and not merely an idea. Second, he acknowledged the pivotal role Henry Sylvester Williams played in convening the 1900 Pan-African Conference in London, which essentially inaugurated the modern Pan-African Movement. Third, Logan emphasized that Williams “did not envision self-government or independence in Africa” and that it was W. E.B. Du Bois “who transformed Williams’s limited conception of Pan-Africanism into

a movement for self-government or independence for African peoples.” All of this underscores the fact that from the start Pan-Africanism has held many different meanings for many different people.¹⁵

Where Williams’s Pan-Africanism “did not envision self-government or independence in Africa,” in the aftermath of the 1900 Pan-African Conference Du Bois’s Pan-Africanism evolved from moderatism to militantism, gradually incorporating elements of black nationalism, African nationalism, Garveyism, black radicalism, black Marxism, African socialism, and black internationalism.¹⁶ All of this is to say, as Adi observed, “there has never been one universally accepted definition of exactly what constitutes Pan-Africanism.” However, even if most Pan-Africanists might find it difficult to narrowly define Pan-Africanism, nearly all Pan-Africanists would readily concede that it is an intellectual tradition *and* political movement that extends back to the late nineteenth century and matured during the first half of the twentieth century, specifically from the Pan-African Conference held in London in 1900 to the All African People’s Conference held in Accra in 1958.¹⁷

Whether we turn to the 1900 Pan-African Conference or the 1958 All African People’s Conference, according to Vincent Bakpetu Thompson in *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism*, “[i]n all these activities, Du Bois was the connecting link who nurtured the Pan-African idea, and after [Henry] Sylvester Williams’s death (in 1911) was its chief inspiration.” Thompson situated Du Bois at the center of the transition from the “Pan-African idea” to the “Pan-African Movement,” noting that “[t]hrough his efforts four Pan-African Congresses were held between 1919 and 1927,” and “these can be justly called Du Boisian Congresses.” Moreover, in Thompson’s estimation the fifth Pan-African Congress held in Manchester in 1945 “with Du Bois as chairman,” was the “beginning of a new era.” Thompson insightfully elaborated:

The first phase of Pan-Africanism, between 1900 and 1945, remained in the realm of ideas. After the Congress of 1945 there was a “lull” before the convening of another. The second phase aided by many factors, chief among which was the second world war, began in 1958 after Ghana’s attainment of sovereign status. The experiences of the war brought to the Congress of 1945 people whose minds were already made up on the future of colonialism in their territories. They injected a note of militancy which was taken back to Africa and heightened the struggles for national independence. From 1958 onwards the notion of Pan-Africa has moved into the realm of practical politics.¹⁸

Thompson and Logan provide us with useful discussions of the evolution of the Pan-African Movement, and essentially the ways in which it morphed from merely an idea into a full-blown radical political movement. Both Thompson and Logan acknowledged the pivotal role Williams and Du Bois played in inaugurating modern Pan-Africanism, and that during the first half of the twentieth century Pan-Africanism seemed to parallel Du Bois’s ideological evolution from conservatism to radicalism.¹⁹ Another important point that should be emphasized here is that Thompson and Logan’s periodization of modern Pan-Africanism has been passed down to several generations of Pan-Africanists who generally agree that modern Pan-Africanism began with the Pan-African Conference of 1900, ideologically evolved during the Du Bois-led Pan-African Congresses convened between 1919 and 1945, and then took a political turn in the aftermath of Ghana’s independence in 1957 and the subsequent All African People’s Conference held in Accra in 1958. For instance, in 1993 St. Clair Drake observed, “[f]or almost a century, a conscious and deliberate movement has been developing within various parts of the black world to increase cultural contacts between its

diverse segments and to unite them in the pursuit of common interests.” Then, distinguishing between “Pan-African apolitical activity” and “Pan-African political activity,” Drake importantly emphasized the multiplicity of Pan-Africanism, stating:

Pan-African apolitical activity can be traced back into the eighteenth century, but Pan-African political activity has been concentrated between the years 1900 and 1958. During that span of years, Pan-African political activity developed as a series of local, highly specific struggles against discrimination based on race and color, sometimes overt, sometimes covert, and against the material and psychological legacies of the slave trade.²⁰

We witness here that Drake, much like Logan and Thompson, acknowledged that Pan-Africanism predated the 1900 Pan-African Conference but that it was the evolution of “Pan-African political activity” between 1900 and 1958 that essentially laid the foundations for *what* we currently conceive of as Pan-Africanism and *who* we currently understand to be Pan-Africanists. This means that for many Pan-Africanists, including those who contributed to this volume, Pan-Africanism is simultaneously an idea *and* a movement, a kind of intellectualism *and* activism, a theory *and* a praxis. It exists whenever people of African ancestry recognize and resist the particular ways continental and diasporan Africans have been racialized, colonized, enslaved, oppressed, and exploited. Additionally, it exists wherever African people live, love, and fight for liberation, whether on the African continent or throughout the African diaspora.

Pan-Africanisms: critical questions, definitional difficulties, intellectual elasticity, and political plurality

Noting the simultaneity and elasticity of Pan-Africanism, Anthony Bogues importantly noted, “Pan-Africanism has been a major stream in the wide complex of black political thought, touching both the black radical tradition and the more conservative nuances of black political thought.” Indeed, “[i]ts apparent elasticity has been accompanied by definitional difficulties.” Bearing in mind Pan-Africanism’s long, complex, and often contradictory “definitional difficulties” I believe that Bogues captured the sentiments of a great many twenty-first century Pan-Africanists when he underscored that after all the smoke clears and all the dust has settled Pan-Africanism “is not a tradition which should be simply located as a geographic one, but rather, like all other intellectual and political traditions, is characterised by the questions which it poses.”²¹

Undoubtedly, there are many questions posed by twentieth century Pan-Africanists that have yet to be answered. However, even as we continue our preoccupation with many of those questions we should not negate the fact that at the heart of the Pan-African tradition is the dialectic of *the questions it asks* and *the answers it offers*. What new questions are Pan-Africanists asking in the twenty-first century? How do most of these questions build on and go beyond the Pan-Africanism of the past? What are the most distinctive discursive features of the Pan-Africanism of previous epochs? What are the most distinctive discursive features of the Pan-Africanism of the present era? What are the major contributions (e.g., social, political, economic, cultural, and artistic contributions) of past and present Pan-Africanism? Is Pan-Africanism still relevant in the twenty-first century? Obviously, the questions abound. Needless to say, the primary preoccupation of the *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* is to answer these key questions and, truth be told, raise many others.

Even as we ask these questions we should bear in mind Bogue's emphasis on the long-standing "definitional difficulties" that have plagued Pan-Africanism since its inception. At the close of the twentieth century, it was Esedebe who stated that for many "recent writers Pan-Africanism seems to mean anything" they want it to mean. Indeed, he admitted, an accurate definition of Pan-Africanism "is by no means easy to formulate." Primarily because "[i]t cannot be given in a neat and short sentence."²² Just as it would be difficult for many students and adherents of Marxism or existentialism or postmodernism to define their respective philosophies "in a neat and short sentence," the same sentiment holds for the students and adherents of Pan-Africanism. The truth of the matter is that for far too long both the detractors and defenders of Pan-Africanism have been trying to force it to fit within Eurocentric, heteropatriarchal, bourgeois academic, and other linear conceptual frameworks. As an idea *and* a movement, a kind of intellectualism *and* activism, a theory *and* a praxis, Pan-Africanism discursively defies the definitional protocols of imperialist ideology (i.e., racism, sexism, heterosexism, colonialism, capitalism, etc.). It is organic and not static, and it has continued to evolve into the twenty-first century because, sadly, many of the most pressing problems that beset continental and diasporan Africans in the twentieth century have been carried over to the twenty-first century.²³

Following Esedebe's lead, many twenty-first century Pan-Africanists conceive of Pan-Africanism as a set of core principles and a cluster of concepts that, when taken together, enable the students and adherents of Pan-Africanism to develop a working-definition of Pan-Africanism. According to Esedebe, some of the core principles and key concepts of Pan-Africanism include: "Africa as the homeland of Africans and persons of African origin, solidarity among people of African descent, belief in a distinct African personality, rehabilitation of Africa's past, pride in African culture, Africa for Africans in church and state, [and] the hope for a united glorious future Africa." It is these core principles and key concepts that are at the heart of the Pan-African idea and movement, and which historically have been utilized in efforts to develop a working definition of Pan-Africanism.²⁴

Esedebe further elaborated: "All these elements or combinations of them form the principal aims of twentieth century Pan-African associations; they pervade the resolutions of Pan-African meetings held outside and inside the continent since 1900; they permeate the utterances and publications of men like W.E.B. Du Bois, Marcus Garvey, George Padmore, Kwame Nkrumah, Julius Nyerere, and Stokely Carmichael."²⁵ However, as we will witness throughout this volume, Pan-Africanism neither historically nor currently can be found exclusively in the intellectual, political, and cultural work of men of African ancestry. As black feminism, African feminism, Caribbean feminism, and Pan-African feminism have long emphasized, scores of women of African ancestry have contributed to the Pan-African idea and movement. It would be virtually impossible to adequately grasp and grapple with Pan-Africanism without critically engaging the incomparable contributions of the National Association of Colored Women (NACW), the Universal African Black Cross Nurses, the Women's International Circle for Peace and Foreign Relations, the Universal Association of Ethiopian Women, Anna Julia Cooper, Mary Church Terrell, Fannie Barrier Williams, Margaret Murray Washington, Constance Cummings-John, Ida Gibbs Hunt, Amy Ashwood Garvey, Amy Jacques Garvey, Henrietta Vinton Davis, Claudia Jones, Jessie Fauset, Addie Waites Hunton, Addie Dickerson, and Mary McLeod Bethune, among many others.²⁶ Again, we witness that Pan-Africanism discursively defies definitional protocols—in this instance it flies in the face of the time-honored but tired masculinist and misogynist tendency to privilege male Pan-Africanists over the lives, struggles and crucial contributions of female

Pan-Africanists. Keisha N. Blain offered insight on the tendency to privilege male Pan-Africanists over female Pan-Africanists when she importantly asserted in a recent interview:

Much of the scholarship on Pan-Africanism tends to emphasize the ideas and activities of men. This is not all that surprising and is reflective of larger trends in the broader literature on black internationalism. Despite their marginalization in the literature, however, black women played (and continue to play) central roles in shaping Pan-Africanist movements and discourses. They not only established and led an array of Pan-Africanist organizations but they used their writings and speeches to challenge the masculinist framing of Pan-Africanism, calling instead for the inclusion of women's voices and concerns.²⁷

In alignment with Pan-African feminists, I believe we need to focus on the “ideas and activism of [the] cadre of black women whose stories have been largely marginalized in the scholarship.”²⁸ I believe we need to not only include and accent women's contributions to Pan-Africanism but also to critically explore how gender and the patriarchy of many male Pan-Africanists historically influenced and continues to inform what we conceive of as the Pan-African idea and movement. This is particularly important to take into consideration in the present volume because many, if not most, of the contributors (the editor included) cannot conceive of Pan-Africanism without the inestimable contributions of women. Moreover, the fact that many of the contributors to this volume understand Pan-Africanism and African feminism/Caribbean feminism/black feminism to be inextricable is proof that *Pan-Africanism in a singular sense no longer exists*, if it ever really existed amongst the mostly female rank and file or foot soldiers of the Pan-African Movement.²⁹ The articulation of *the plurality of Pan-Africanism*—which is to say, *Pan-Africanisms*—is one of the most distinctive discursive characteristics of Pan-Africanism in the twenty-first century.

If we turn to the Pan-African Conference of 1900, then and there we should note that six of the fifty-one conferees were women, including Anna Julia Cooper, Fannie Barrier Williams, Ella D. Barrier, and Anna H. Jones.³⁰ Were we to turn our attention to the Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA), which is also commonly called the “Garvey Movement,” throughout its existence, and certainly during its peak period (circa 1917–1927) women played pivotal roles in the movement, including Amy Ashwood Garvey, Amy Jacques Garvey, Henrietta Vinton Davis, Queen Mother Audley Moore, Mittie Maude Lena Gordon, and Maymie Leona Turpeau de Mena.³¹ Finally, when we celebrate the first African country to achieve independence from European colonial rule, which is to say Ghana in 1957, along with Kwame Nkrumah and the myriad Ghanaian men that are regularly acknowledged as pioneering Pan-Africanists, we should research and revere the Pan-Africanist Ghanaian women and women's organizations that were integral to Ghana achieving independence: the Convention People's Party Women's League, the National Federation of Ghana Women, the National Council of Ghana Women, Evelyn Armarteifio, Letitia Quaye, Sophia Doku, Hannah Cudjoe, Ama Nkrumah, Susana Al-Hassan, Ayanori Bukari, Victoria Nyarko, Mary Koranteng, Regina Asamany, Grace Ayensu, Christiana Wilmot, Comfort Asamoah, and Lucy Anim, literally, among many others.³²

To invoke *Pan-Africanisms* (plural) rather than Pan-Africanism (singular) is to openly and knowingly court controversy. As is evident based on their ideas and actions, most male Pan-Africanists regularly conceive of Pan-Africanism as a struggle against racism, colonialism, and capitalism, often leaving Pan-African women and their struggles against sexism and for gender justice in the lurch. This strikes me as particularly odd when Pan-Africanist men

incessantly argue that Pan-Africanism is fundamentally about African “unification” and “liberation.” What about uniting and standing in solidarity with our sisters? If Pan-Africanism is really about African “unification” and “liberation” shouldn’t male Pan-Africanists critique and combat patriarchy with the same level of passion and tenacity they do regarding racism, colonialism, and capitalism? Isn’t it highly hypocritical for male Pan-Africanists to rail against the mistreatment of continental and diasporan Africans and advocate for African liberation but, for all intents and purposes, exclude the lives and struggles of women of African ancestry from their vision of liberation? It was Ajamu Nangwaya who put it succinctly when he declared, “[a] Pan-Africanism of liberation should be based on the labouring classes as its principal constituency and, as such, must be an anti-capitalist, feminist, anti-imperialist and anti-racist movement.”³³

Obviously, I am intentionally calling old-school patriarchal conceptions of Pan-Africanism into question. My conception of *Pan-Africanisms* (plural), as opposed to Pan-Africanism (singular), enables me to redefine Pan-Africanism based on principles of *radical inclusivity* and *insurgent intersectionality*. Throughout this volume the voices and views of the most marginalized within the Pan-African Movement, if not within the African world, will be centered and critically explored in ways that not only pay respect to the plurality of the Pan-African tradition, but also acknowledge the ways in which little known or marginalized figures, organizations, and events have contributed to Pan-Africanism’s evolution, redefinition, and re-radicalization.³⁴

Here instead of sidestepping Pan-Africanism’s “definitional difficulties” we seek to use this tension within the tradition in ways that enable our readers to reconceive of Pan-Africanism as *a tradition predicated on innovation*. The dialectic of *tradition and innovation* has been at the heart of continental and diasporan African history, culture, and struggle, and it has animated the Pan-African tradition since its emergence. If, in fact, Pan-Africanism is *a tradition predicated on innovation*, it stands to reason that efforts to narrowly and definitively define it will defy hegemonic linear logic. Consequently, a major preoccupation of each chapter in this volume is not with definitively *defining Pan-Africanism*, but instead with *doing Pan-Africanism*. The subsequent chapters develop working definitions of Pan-Africanism and demonstrate that instead of being a dead tradition it is *an organic, multidimensional and multi-issue living tradition* that we can all critically dialogue with, asking it dire questions and seeking from it practical answers. In other words, here we are collectively concerned with a wide range of *Pan-Africanisms* (plural). We are interested in the ways in which discursively diverse cadres of Pan-Africanists morphed Pan-African ideas into Pan-African movements, transformed Pan-African theory into Pan-African praxis. If the twentieth century was the century of Pan-Africanism (singular), the twenty-first century must be the century of *Pan-Africanisms* (plural). *The Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* is a contribution to the evolution, redefinition, re-radicalization, and pluralization of Pan-Africanism.

But, the question remains, what is our working-definition of Pan-Africanism?

What is Pan-Africanism?: on the plurality of Pan-African ideas and movements

In the simplest terms, Pan-Africanism is *a simultaneously intellectual, cultural, social, political, economic and artistic project that calls for the unification and liberation of all people of African ancestry, both on the African continent and in the African diaspora*.³⁵ As mentioned, Pan-Africanism is typically engaged utilizing a general periodization process: the Pan-African idea period, 1776–1900; the historic Pan-African Movement period, 1900–1958; and the current Pan-

African Movement period, 1958 to the present. Many scholars of Pan-Africanism explore its conceptual interconnections with a plethora of political ideas and social movements, and most of these scholars believe that it is important to make these connections and conduct these explorations without downplaying or diminishing the core principles and cluster of concepts at the heart of the Pan-African tradition. With this in mind, Keisha Blain revealingly wrote:

In the broadest sense, Pan-Africanism refers to a movement and ideology centered on the belief that peoples of African descent throughout the continent and in the diaspora share a common past and destiny. This shared understanding of the past and future informs how people of African descent mobilize against racial discrimination, colonialism, and economic, political, social, and cultural oppression. Throughout history, Pan-Africanism has taken on various meanings and manifestations. This includes, but is certainly not limited to, Ethiopianism (race redemption ideas derived from a biblical conception of Ethiopia) and Garveyism (the political teachings of the charismatic Jamaican black nationalist Marcus Garvey). Perhaps the most well-known manifestation of Pan-Africanism is the series of Pan-African congresses of the twentieth century (1900–1945), led primarily—but not exclusively—by W.E.B. Du Bois.³⁶

It is important to observe Blain's emphasis on the fact that "Pan-Africanism has taken on various meanings and manifestations," and that it is primarily grounded in, and grows out of, Africana intellectual history and culture (e.g., Ethiopianism, Garveyism, and the Du Bois-led Pan-African congresses). Obviously, many Pan-Africanists have been influenced by Marxism, among other European theories, but here we should avoid the tendency to privilege Eurocentric theories over the myriad theories arising out of the Africana intellectual tradition that influenced Pan-Africanism before and after the emergence of Marxism. It is as if Marxism intellectually eclipses all of the Africana theories that provided Pan-Africanism with its philosophical foundations, social visions, and political pragmatism. Moreover, it is as if it is not possible to be simultaneously Pan-Africanist *and* Marxist (à la W.E.B. Du Bois, C.L.R. James, Claudia Jones, Grace P. Campbell, the Negritude Movement, Frantz Fanon, Kwame Nkrumah, Amílcar Cabral, Louise Thompson Patterson, Esther Cooper Jackson, Queen Mother Audley Moore, Walter Rodney, Maurice Bishop, and Thomas Sankara, among many others). Of course, there is ample historical evidence to support a conception of Pan-Africanism as an ongoing synthesis of the black radical tradition with radical theories and praxes not only arising out of Europe, but from many other parts of the world where people are struggling against imperialism.³⁷

Special note should be made of the fact that I am not in any way discursively disavowing Marxism (and certainly not *black Marxism*). Quite the contrary, I am echoing Lewis Gordon's contention that we should always bear in mind that "theory, any theory, gains its sustenance from that which it offers *for* and *through* the lived-reality of those who are expected to formulate it."³⁸ With regard to Marxism in specific, and the ways in which it has consistently attracted the attention of black radical intellectuals, Gordon explained:

Africana philosophy's history of Christian, Marxist, Feminist, Pragmatist, Analytical, and Phenomenological thought has therefore been a matter of what specific dimensions each had to offer the existential realities of theorizing blackness. For Marxism, for instance, it was not so much its notion of "science" over all other forms of socialist theory, nor its promise of a world to win, that may have struck a resonating chord in the hearts of

black Marxists. It was, instead, Marx and Engels' famous encomium of the proletarians' having nothing to lose but their chains. Such a call has obvious affinity for a people who have been so strongly identified with chattel slavery.³⁹

It is important to understand and critically engage *why* continental and diasporan Africans have historically and continue currently to embrace Eurocentric theory. Saying simply that blacks who did or who do embrace some aspects of white theory are intellectually insane or have an intellectual inferiority complex logically leads us to yet another discourse on black pathology; all the while we will be, however inadvertently, side-stepping one of the most pressing problems confronting Pan-Africanists in the twenty-first century: the critique and confrontation of *white supremacist colonialist capitalist heteropatriarchy* as a history-making and culture-shaping global imperialism.⁴⁰ People of African ancestry have been preoccupied in the modern moment with struggles against various forms and forces of domination, oppression, and exploitation. They, therefore, have been and remain attracted to theories that they understand to promise or provide tools to combat their domination, oppression, and/or exploitation. Although blacks in white supremacist societies are often rendered anonymous and are virtually invisible, they do not have a "collective mind" and have reached no consensus concerning which theories make the best weapons to combat their domination, oppression, and/or exploitation.⁴¹

This means, then, that the way is epistemically open, and that those blacks who embrace or appropriate an aspect of white theory are not theoretically "lost" but, perhaps, simply employing the theoretical tools they understand to be most applicable and most readily available to them in their respective *white supremacist colonialist capitalist heteropatriarchal* contexts and in their particular emancipatory efforts. Consequently, when a Pan-Africanist engages Marxism they do so bearing in mind the core principles and cluster of concepts at the heart of the Pan-African tradition. In other words, their Marxism is more "Pan-African Marxism" or "black Marxism" than Marxism in any orthodox or Eurocentric sense.⁴²

Blain hit the nail on the head when she asserted that "Pan-Africanism has taken on various meanings and manifestations." This declaration speaks directly to my emphasis on the plurality of Pan-Africanism: *Pan-Africanisms*. For some Pan-Africanists Marxism is integral to their Pan-Africanism. For other Pan-Africanists feminism or womanism is fundamental to their Pan-Africanism. Still there are other Pan-Africanists, much like myself, whose Pan-Africanism is predicated on the *radical inclusivity* and *insurgent intersectionality* as discussed, which means we cannot conceive of any form of Pan-Africanism that excludes any person of African ancestry. Would it really be Pan-Africanism if it discriminates against Africans, continental or diasporan? Isn't it oxymoronic to advocate anti-African forms of Pan-Africanism that ostracize continental and diasporan Africans based on their gender, sexuality, class, ethnicity, nationality, religion, etc.?⁴³ Perhaps Esedebe's dictum "Pan-Africanism seems to mean anything" continues to haunt contemporary Pan-Africanism. Although I believe it is the core principles and cluster of concepts discussed that historically and currently discursively determines what Pan-Africanism is and is not. Indeed, it is my hope that with the *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* Pan-Africanists are able to critically engage the multiple meanings, intellectual elasticity, and political plurality of Pan-Africanism in the twenty-first century.

Although Pan-Africanism undeniably began as a response to the colonization of Africa and the enslavement of African people, it is much more than a mere reaction to dehumanization, de-Africanization, racialization, colonization, enslavement, and imperialism throughout the African world. In point of fact, Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood contended in

Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787, Pan-African history “includes chronicling a variety of ideas, activities and movements that celebrated Africaness, resisted the exploitation and oppression of those of African descent, and opposed the ideologies of racism.”⁴⁴ In this sense, Pan-Africanism is an ongoing synthesis of *anti-racism*, *counter-colonialism*, and *the dialectical process of decolonization and re-Africanization*. Bearing this in mind, it is important to observe that Pan-Africanism has always been open to widely varied interpretations and articulations: from Henry Sylvester Williams, W.E.B. Du Bois and C.L.R. James’s early Pan-Africanism to Anna Julia Cooper, Amy Ashwood Garvey, Amy Jacques Garvey, Claudia Jones, and Constance Cummings-John’s early Pan-African feminism; from Léon Damas, Aimé Césaire, and Léopold Senghor’s Pan-Africanism emerging out of the Négritude Movement to Jane Nardal, Paulette Nardal and Suzanne Césaire’s Pan-African feminism arising from the Négritude Movement; from Ahmed Sékou Touré, Kwame Nkrumah and Julius Nyerere’s conception of political Pan-Africanism to Chinua Achebe, Ama Ata Aidoo, Ngũgĩ wa Thiong’o and Chimamanda Ngozi Adichie’s literary Pan-Africanism, among many others.⁴⁵

It should not shock anyone that such a discursively diverse group of Pan-Africanists’ perspectives “have differed, according to time, location, and the nature of the problems they confronted.”⁴⁶ Indeed, it is often said that each African, whether on the African continent or in the African diaspora, has his, her, or their (gender nonconforming) own Pan-Africanism. Which is to say, each African harbors a deep desire to reclaim and recreate their own unique relationship with African culture and their own—to borrow a favorite phrase from the Négritude Movement—*Africanité* (i.e., African humanity, African identity, and African personality).⁴⁷ Considering the different visions and versions of Pan-Africanism, Adi emphasized:

What underlies the manifold visions and approaches of Pan-Africanism and Pan-Africanists is a belief in the unity, common history and common purpose of the peoples of Africa and the African diaspora, and the notion that their destinies are interconnected. In addition, many would highlight the importance of the liberation and advancement of the African continent itself, not just for its inhabitants, but also as the homeland of the entire African diaspora. Such perspectives might be traced back to ancient times but Pan-Africanist thought and action is principally connected with, and provoked by, the modern dispersal of Africans resulting from the trafficking of captives across the Atlantic to the Americas, as well as elsewhere, from the end of the fifteenth century to the close of the nineteenth century. This “slave trade,” the largest forced migration in history, and the creation of the African diaspora was accompanied by the emergence of global capitalism, European colonial rule and anti-African racism.⁴⁸

Based on this, we can deduce that Pan-Africanism not only has myriad definitions, but also that no matter how it is defined it seeks to combat “global capitalism, European colonial rule and anti-African racism.” It also maintains a preoccupation with the aftermath of the African holocaust, the “slave trade,” African colonization, African decolonization, and the shifting dynamics of the African diaspora. In my conception of *Pan-Africanisms* (plural) there is no need to take a linear *either/or approach* to Pan-Africanism: meaning, *either* it is an idea *or* a movement; *either* it is moderate *or* militant; *either* it is concerned with the African continent *or* the African diaspora, etc. The emphasis on *Pan-Africanisms* (plural) is organic and allows us to accent and acknowledge the plurality of Pan-African ideas, Pan-African expressions, and Pan-African movements. It is a curvilinear *both/and approach* to Pan-Africanism: meaning,

Pan-Africanism is most often *both* an idea *and* a movement; contains *both* conservative *and* radical elements; and is *both* concerned with the continent *and* the diaspora.⁴⁹

Needless to say, no single group of African people, whether on the African continent or in the African diaspora, has a monopoly on Pan-Africanism or what it means to be African and embody *Africanité*. In this regard, Nigerian Nobel laureate Wole Soyinka, in his essay “The African World and the Ethno-Cultural Debate,” sardonically queried: “How can we as intelligent human beings submit to the self-imprisonment of a ‘saline consciousness’ which insists that, contrary to all historic evidence, Africa stops wherever salt water licks its shores? Or that, conversely, all that is bound by salt water on the African continent is necessarily African?”⁵⁰ We would do well to cautiously consider Soyinka’s queries. Soyinka knows, as should twenty-first century Pan-Africanists, that “Africa” is more than its human and natural resources, but also a unique multicultural, transethnic, transgenerational, transnational, and transcontinental pluriverse drawn from and contributed to by persons of African ancestry wherever they exist.⁵¹

The truth of the matter is that for many of us Africa is both physical *and* metaphysical, a continent *and* a cultural epicenter. The pioneering Pan-Africanist W.E.B. Du Bois famously wrote in *Dusk of Dawn*, “[m]y African racial feeling was then purely a matter of my own later learning and reaction; my recoil from the assumptions of the whites.” However, he importantly emphasized, “it was nonetheless real and a large determinant of my life and character.” Du Bois continued, “I felt myself African by ‘race’ and by that token was African and an integral member of the group of dark Americans who were called Negroes.”⁵² For many in the African diaspora what Soyinka identified as “saline consciousness” is nonsensical (as Soyinka correctly asserted) considering colonial and “postcolonial” African history and culture, and it actually goes against the core principles of Pan-Africanism, which seek to unite continental *and* diasporan Africa.⁵³

Africa or, rather, modern Africa, as Soyinka insisted, is not merely the sum total of the history, cultures, and struggles that have unfolded on the actual physical African continent over the last several centuries. Taking into serious consideration the African holocaust, the “slave trade,” African colonization, African decolonization, and the approximately 150 million Africans in the diaspora, Africa is *both* a continent *and* a diaspora. This is to say, Africa is *both* continental *and* transcontinental.⁵⁴ Consequently, instead of a “saline consciousness,” Kurt Young argues for an authentic “Pan-African consciousness:”

The notion of a Pan-African consciousness is central to the holistic paradigm in that it represents an identification with Africa on levels much deeper than isolated “ideas” about the physical continent. Pan-African consciousness refers to an awareness that members of African origin communities—and by extension the community itself—belong to a global African “family.” It transcends mere reflections on Africa towards an awareness of kindred relationships among African origin people and communities. Finally, the presence of a Pan-African consciousness creates a sense of unity in struggle. That is, where there exists manifestations of this type of consciousness anywhere in the African diaspora, one also finds notions of a collective commitment to the prevailing political struggles of that region and to those waged elsewhere. As expressions of consciousness, this commitment can be demonstrated in moral, psychological, spiritual and even artistic terms. However, what is most important in the holistic context is the interaction between a wider Pan-African consciousness and the specific political organizations, formations, and movements created as a means of confronting any undesirable reality. It is at the precise moment, when notions of a collective commitment manifest

themselves strategically, tactically, or in practice, that the point of convergence between Pan-African consciousness and collective political efforts produce Pan-Africanist activities.⁵⁵

A number of things should be noted about Young's conception of Pan-African consciousness. First, for Young Pan-African consciousness promotes a "global African 'family'"—a kind of kinship or, rather, a filial connection based on common history and shared lived-experiences of anti-African oppression and exploitation, and not necessarily biology and pigmentation. Hence, when I use the phrase "people of African ancestry," I do so to emphasize both our *Africanité* and *ancestry*, which is to say, our shared historical, cultural, and politico-economic heritage. I am underscoring the common historical, cultural, and politico-economic origins and experiences of continental and diasporan Africans, many of which are directly connected to *the incredible creolization of the African world*, whether we turn to the pre-colonial, colonial or "postcolonial" African world.⁵⁶ Second, Pan-African consciousness is more than mere "ideas" about Africa because its emphasis on political pragmatism has consistently "create[d] a sense of unity" in widely varying enclaves in both continental and diasporan Africa. Consequently, it strongly stresses both unity *and* struggle throughout the African world. Third, Pan-African consciousness helps to connect local Pan-Africanism with global Pan-Africanisms. That is to say, Pan-African consciousness creates simultaneously local, regional, national, transnational and transcontinental connections between various "political organizations, formations, and movements" concerned with the decolonization, re-Africanization, unification, and liberation of continental and diasporan Africa and Africans. Fourth, Young importantly pointed out that Pan-African consciousness can be expressed in "moral, psychological, spiritual and even artistic terms." Hence, Pan-Africanism and the consciousness that is fundamental to it is not merely expressed by radicals, social leaders, politicians, and intellectuals, but also by the rank and file, folk artists, filmmakers, novelists, playwrights, poets, painters, dancers, and musicians, among others. Indeed, it is *an inclusive counter-ideology* open to all who acknowledge and embody *Africanité*. Lastly, when Young wrote, "at the precise moment, when notions of a collective commitment manifest themselves strategically, tactically, or in practice," he conceives of Pan-Africanism as essentially *a praxis-promoting theory* or, rather, *a theory preoccupied with praxis*. It stands to reason, then, that a key component of authentic Pan-African consciousness is its deep commitment to consciousness-raising, decolonization, and re-Africanization.⁵⁷

In keeping with the foregoing emphasis on *Pan-Africanisms* (plural) and Pan-African consciousness, the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* can be considered a contribution to *Pan-African consciousness-raising*. Each chapter, in essence, is an exercise in the evolution of the Pan-African tradition and an example of the kinds of innovations that distinguish twenty-first century Pan-Africanism. Contemporary Pan-Africanisms are grounded in and grow out of the long history of Pan-Africanism, which reaches back to the Haitian Revolution (circa 1791–1804), if not even earlier, as Esebede asserted.⁵⁸ It is a newfangled form of Pan-Africanism that is preoccupied with providing solutions to the most pressing problems confronting the African world in the twenty-first century.

Enacting Pan-Africanisms: outlining the *handbook*

As the editor of the *Routledge Handbook of Pan-Africanism* I have placed significant emphasis on a multiplicity of perspectives on Pan-Africanism. Which is to say, in the chapters to follow Pan-Africanism will be explored and critically engaged from several different

disciplinary points of view. For example, along with chapters that survey Pan-Africanism from the disciplinary perspectives of history, sociology, political science, economics, philosophy, religion, and literature, the *Handbook* will also feature Pan-Africanist work from emerging interdisciplinary or, rather, *transdisciplinary* fields.⁵⁹ Consequently, the *Handbook* will highlight scholarship by Pan-Africanists from interdisciplinary and transdisciplinary fields such as cultural studies, decolonial studies, postcolonial studies, subaltern studies, and transnational studies, among others. However, special emphasis will be placed on the work of scholars working in, and associated with Africana Studies.⁶⁰

From my frame of reference, Africana studies is conceived of in its most critical, comparative, and comprehensive sense. Which is to say, *Africana studies* is an umbrella term that includes African studies, African diasporan studies, African American studies, Caribbean studies, Afro-Asian studies, Afro-European studies, Afro-Latino studies, Afro-Native American studies, Afro-Christian studies, Afro-Islamic studies, Afro-Jewish studies, Afro-Buddhist studies, Pan-African studies, Black British studies and, of course, Black studies, among others. This *Handbook* will also place special emphasis on an intersectional approach to Pan-Africanism. This means that a keen editorial eye will be given to the ways in which continental and diasporan African calls for unity and liberation overlap, interlock, and intersect with their struggles against myriad systems of oppression and exploitation, such as imperialism, militarism, colonialism, capitalism, racism, sexism (particularly patriarchy and misogyny), heterosexism (particularly queerphobia/homophobia and heteropatriarchy), the racial colonization of African sexuality, the racial colonization of African religions, and the racial colonization of education in Africa and its diaspora, etc.⁶¹

An explicitly intersectional approach to Pan-Africanism (i.e., *intersectional Pan-Africanism* or, rather, *Pan-African intersectionalism*) means that the *Handbook* will not be yet another book on the “great straight black men” of the Pan-African pantheon.⁶² The erased and the marginalized, feminist and womanist, queer/LGBTQIA+ and gender/sexuality non-conforming identities and experiences within the African world (i.e., the combined continental and diasporan African world), will be brought to the center and featured wherever and whenever possible in the *Handbook*. For instance, Pan-African feminist figures such as Anna Julia Cooper, Maymie De Mena, Ethel Collins, Amy Ashwood Garvey, Amy Jacques Garvey, Ethel Waddell, Claudia Jones, Henrietta Vinton Davis, Queen Mother Audley Moore, Mariama Bâ, Micere Githae Mugo, Leymah Gbowee, and Efua Sutherland, among others, will be featured alongside, and often in critical dialogue with the more noted male figures usually found in Pan-Africanist scholarship.⁶³

Several chapters in the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* critically explore Pan-African queer/LGBTQIA+ theory and survey Pan-African sexual politics and erotics. Which is to say, continental and diasporan African queer/LGBTQIA+ and gender/sexuality non-conforming identities and experiences are at the core of the conception of *Pan-Africanisms* and *radical inclusivity* this *Handbook* is based on. From my point of view, Pan-Africanism should leave no form of racial colonization in the lurch, and the critique of queerphobia, transphobia, heteronormativity, heteropatriarchy, and the rote racial colonization of gender and sexuality in continental and diasporan Africa is just as important as the critique of other forms of imperialism throughout the African world.⁶⁴ My thinking along these lines has been influenced by the important scholarship of Ifi Amadiume, Oyèrónkẹ Oyěwùmí, Cathy J. Cohen, E. Patrick Johnson, Zethu Matebeni, Surya Monro, Vasu Reddy, Omise’eke Natasha Tinsley, Hakima Abbas, Sokari Ekine, Dwight A. McBride, Greg Thomas, Brenna Munro, Roderick A. Ferguson, Jafari S. Allen, Evan Maina Mwangi, Thabo Msibi, Kennedy Kanyali Mwikya, and S.N. Nyeck, among others.⁶⁵ Ultimately, the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* seeks

to not only provide an *international*, *intersectional*, and *interdisciplinary/transdisciplinary* overview of, and approach to Pan-Africanism, but it also aims to make an invaluable contribution to the ongoing evolution of Pan-Africanism (i.e., *Pan-Africanisms*) and demonstrate its continued significance in the twenty-first century.

The Handbook of Pan-Africanism has been organized into seven parts, and each part takes a thematic approach to Pan-Africanism. This *Handbook* was conceptualized as a compendium and source for further research rather than an encyclopedia of Pan-Africanism. Consequently, the seven parts of the *Handbook* should be taken as discursive and dialogical points of departure that will enable the reader to discover Pan-Africanism's past, critically engage it in the present, and hopefully contribute to its future. Obviously, the seven sections of this *Handbook* do not represent all the myriad ways Pan-Africanism can be explored, and the three dozen essays to follow are merely some of the ways Pan-Africanism is currently being critically engaged in the first quarter of the twenty-first century. Indeed, the seven parts of this book are, for all intents and purposes, simply springboards for developing the critical discourse on the Pan-African idea and movement in the twenty-first century.

The respective chapters within each part of the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* seek to demonstrate the evolution, intellectual elasticity, and political plurality of Pan-Africanism. This approach will keep with the overarching *international*, *intersectional*, and *interdisciplinary/transdisciplinary* approach to Pan-Africanism many of my colleagues and I believe is sorely absent from most previous Pan-Africanist scholarship. The chapters in the separate sections of this book are arranged so that each chapter can be read in dialogue with other chapters in the section (although the authors worked independently and not necessarily dialogically). In other words, each chapter has been positioned so that it can be read either individually or collectively with the other chapters in its section, and within the wider world of the critical discourse on Pan-Africanism. Prior to turning to the summarization of the seven parts of the *Handbook*, I should note that there are apparent omissions. For instance, when I initially conceived of this volume, I wanted "theory" chapters on black feminism, black Marxism, African socialism, consciencism, *Africanité*, and Kwaia, among many others. I also commissioned "history" chapters on Pan-Africanism in East Africa, Pan-Africanism in Central Africa, and Pan-Africanism in Latin America. However, and what I could not have known at the outset of this project, both fortuity and serendipity work their way into the editorial process and, as a result, ultimately determine the contents of sprawling edited volumes such as the *Handbook*.

The omissions and elisions noted here should be ascribed to the time constraints, heavy academic duties, familial obligations, and medical conditions which hindered otherwise dutiful scholars from contributing to the *Handbook* or, in many instances, from completing commissioned chapters. Even still, it is important for me to openly acknowledge that I never intended the *Handbook* to be some sort of definitive survey of Pan-Africanism circa 1776 through to the present. Such an undertaking would require an entire editorial team and multiple volumes (although I believe it would be an incredibly important project). Instead, from the very start I have conceived of the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* as a snapshot of the ways in which Pan-Africanism is being evolved and critically engaged by *transnational*, *transcontinental*, and *transdisciplinary* intellectual-activists in the first quarter of the twenty-first century. It is my hope that our texts will serve as a testament to let the present and future world know: *A luta continua/the struggle continues*.

Part I of the *Handbook*, "Intellectual Origins, Historical Evolution, and Radical Politics of Pan-Africanism," provides readers with a series of working-definitions and working-histories of Pan-Africanism. If, indeed, Pan-Africanism, as so many of us fervently believe, is primarily

a simultaneously historical, cultural, social, political, and economic project, then one of the first things readers of the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* should be exposed to are the varied historical, cultural, social, political, and economic histories of Pan-Africanism. Taking up the task, Mark Malisa and Thelma Quardey Missedja contribute a panoramic intellectual history of Pan-Africanism's evolution, in their words, "beginning with formerly enslaved Africans in the Americas, to the colonial borders of the 1884 Berlin Conference, the rise of the independence movements in Africa from 1957–1975," and ending with the "twenty-first century African Renaissance." William Ackah and Abu Girma Moges and Mammo Muchie's respective chapters offer essential political and political economic histories of Pan-Africanism that illustrate the longstanding political plurality of the Pan-African idea and movement. Part I concludes with Charisse Burden-Stelly and Gerald Horne's chapter that expertly "traces the intellectual and political ascent of black internationalism as the Pan-African enunciation of broader leftwing insurgencies by examining key thinkers, organizations, events, and movements."

The second part of the *Handbook*, "Pan-Africanist Theories," is centered on the intellectual unfolding of Pan-Africanism and, specifically, the influence of the Pan-African idea and movement on continental and diasporan African intellectual history and culture. As Kwame Nkrumah exclaimed in *Consciencism: Philosophy and Ideology for Decolonization*, "[p]ractice without thought is blind; thought without practice is empty."⁶⁶ Consequently, in the aftermath of the Du Bois-led Pan-African congresses, most Pan-Africanists conceive of Pan-Africanism as *a praxis-promoting theory* or, rather, *a theory preoccupied with praxis*. Which is to say, theory—deep discursive, descriptive, and critical thought—is at the heart of Pan-Africanism and should be critically engaged in our efforts to comprehend what Pan-Africanism was in the past, what it is in the present, and what it could be in the future. Bearing all of this in mind, the "Pan-Africanist Theories" section surveys eight of the major theories that have either influenced Pan-Africanism or have been influenced by Pan-Africanism's incessant evolution. Consequently, the second part of the *Handbook* features Jeffrey Ogbar on black nationalism; Mark Langan on neo-colonialism; Andrew Smith on decolonization; Esperanza Brizuela-Garcia on Africanization; Ian Macqueen on black consciousness; Molefi Kete Asante on Afrocentricity; Lyn Ossome on African feminism; and Surya Monro, Zethu Matebeni, and Vasu Reddy on African queer/LGBTQIA+ theory.

Moving from the history and theory sections of the *Handbook*, Part III, "Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora," covers the emergence and evolution of Pan-Africanism in the diaspora. This section begins with my chapter on W.E.B. Du Bois's pioneering late nineteenth century "Pan-Negroism" and ultimately demonstrates that Du Bois's Pan-Africanism evolved from moderatism to militancy as a consequence of his engagement with Ethiopianism, Garveyism, Marxism, democratic socialism, World War I, World War II, and the five Pan-African congresses he convened between 1919 and 1945. Next, Robert Worrell provides a brief but quite brilliant survey of Pan-Africanism in the Caribbean. Similarly, Michael McEachrane and Annette Joseph-Gabriel contribute important chapters on Pan-Africanism in Europe and France, respectively. Because there is a tendency to overlook Pan-Africanism in Europe in favor of focusing on its development in Africa, the Americas, and the Caribbean, McEachrane and Joseph-Gabriel's essays are most welcomed and further proof of the varied ways in which Pan-Africanism has been interpreted and practiced. The "Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora" section closes with Ashley Farmer's groundbreaking survey of women's Pan-African organizing during the Black Power Movement era, deftly demonstrating the influence of Pan-Africanism on the Black Power Movement and vice versa.

The fourth part of the *Handbook*, “Pan-Africanism in Africa,” examines the evolution and dissemination of Pan-Africanism on the African continent. It opens with Fikru Negash Gebrekidan’s imaginative chapter on Du Bois and the politics of imperial Ethiopia, before giving way to chapters on Kwame Nkrumah and Amílcar Cabral’s Pan-Africanism by Matteo Grilli and the present author, respectively. Shifting from focusing on specific Pan-African figures to significant Pan-African themes, Tavengwa Gwekwerere contributes a wide-ranging chapter on Pan-Africanism and the anti-colonial movement in Southern Africa. Next, Kathleen Sheldon and Adriaan Van Klinken, respectively, provide crucial chapters on women Pan-Africanists and queer Pan-Africanists in Africa. The “Pan-Africanism in Africa” section comes to a close with a chapter on African social movements by Franco Barchiesi, and another chapter on the African Union and its institutionalisation of Pan-Africanism by Timothy Murithi.

Part V, “Literary Pan-Africanism,” probes the literature that has grown out of, and has been grounded in Pan-African politics and aesthetics. This section commences with a foundational survey essay by Christel Temple that provides readers with a working-definition and discursive point of departure for understanding literary Pan-Africanism. Next, Babacar M’Baye offers an overview of literary Pan-Africanism in African literature, and then Kersuze Simeon-Jones provides a related essay that surveys literary Pan-Africanism in Caribbean literature. After the trio of overview essays, the “Literary Pan-Africanism” section concludes with two related topical chapters. Anthony Ratcliff contributes a sweeping chapter on Pan-Africanism and black internationalism in the Black Arts Movement and Simphiwe Sesanti supplies an inventive essay on Maya Angelou and the African Renaissance. Each chapter in this section, as with the chapters in the subsequent section, illustrate that the influence of Pan-Africanism extends far beyond politics and has long-informed continental and diasporan African aesthetics.

The sixth part of the *Handbook*, “Musical Pan-Africanism,” continues the artistic explorations of the influence of Pan-Africanism and shifts the focus from literature to music. Which is to say, this section, literally, examines some of the major soundtracks of the Pan-African Movement or, rather, the music that grew out of, and is grounded in the Pan-African aesthetic. The “Musical Pan-Africanism” section gets underway with Karlton Hester’s ingenious essay on Pan-Africanism in jazz, which is followed by Rickey Vincent’s outstanding chapter on Pan-Africanism in funk. Next, we move from the musical Pan-Africanism emanating from the United States to the musical Pan-Africanism of Africa, and Shawn O’Neal contributes an eye-opening essay on Pan-Africanism in Afrobeat. The “Musical Pan-Africanism” section winds up with Harry Nii Koney Odamtten’s innovative essay on Pan-Africanism in rap music and hip hop culture. As with the “Literary Pan-Africanism” section, the “Musical Pan-Africanism” section offers more evidence of the ways in which Pan-Africanism evolved into *Pan-Africanisms* throughout the twentieth century and continues to do so in the twenty-first century.⁶⁷

The *Handbook* ends as it began, by exploring the evolution of the Pan-African idea and movement. In the seventh and concluding part of this volume, “The contemporary relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century,” Mueni wa Muiu and Guy Martin examine the continued relevance of Pan-Africanism. In specific, Muiu explores its role in helping to address three of the most pressing problems confronting continental and diasporan Africans in the modern moment: conflict, forced migration, and poverty. According to Muiu, “transformative education” provides a key solution to our problems, and she defines “transformative education” as “curriculums that equip children of African descent with the skills that they need to solve the issues in their communities.” Martin masterfully surveys “radical vs.

functional Pan-Africanism” and then several proposals for a new political map of Africa, including: Cheikh Anta Diop’s *Federal African State*; Joseph Ki-Zerbo’s *Federal African State*; Marc-Louis Ropivia’s *Continental Federal State*; Makau wa Mutua and Arthur Gakwandi’s new political maps of Africa; Godfrey Mwakikagile’s *African Federal Government*; Pelle Dana-bo’s *Pan-African Federal State*; and Mueni wa Muui’s *Fundi wa Afrika* paradigm advocating the creation of a *Federation of African States* (FAS). If, indeed, Pan-Africanism is to remain relevant it must give continental and diasporan Africans the tools they need to practice self-reliance and solve their own problems. Fittingly, then, the *Handbook of Pan-Africanism* ends with an emphasis on reimagination, transformation, and pragmatism. In her chapter, Muui importantly asks: “In what ways can the ideology of Pan-Africanism be harnessed as a weapon to better the conditions facing people of African descent?” The contributors to the *Handbook* collectively offer its readers a plethora of answers to this crucial question. *A luta continua* and, as Du Bois asserted at the opening, “one Africa,” indeed.

Notes

- 1 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The World and Africa* (New York: Viking Press, 1947), 7.
- 2 My conception of Pan-Africanism has been informed by a wide-range of interdisciplinary and transdisciplinary Pan-Africanist scholarship. See, for example, Tajudeen Abdul-Raheem, ed., *Pan-Africanism: Politics, Economy, and Social Change in the Twenty-First Century* (New York: New York University Press, 1996); Olayiwola Abegunrin and Sabella Ogbobode Abidde, eds., *Pan-Africanism in Modern Times: Challenges, Concerns, and Constraints* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2016); William B. Ackah, *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions—Politics, Identity, and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2016); Opoku Agyeman, *The Failure of Grassroots Pan-Africanism: The Case of the All-African Trade Union Federation* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2003); Adekunle Ajala, *Pan-Africanism: Evolution, Progress, and Prospects* (New York: St. Martin’s Press, 1974); Bankie Forster Bankie and Kingo J. Mchombu, eds., *Pan-Africanism/African Nationalism: Strengthening the Unity of Africa and Its Diaspora* (Trenton: Red Sea Press, 2008); Horace Campbell and Rodney Worrell, *Pan-Africanism, Pan-Africanists, and African Liberation in the Twenty-First Century* (Washington, DC: New Academia Publishing, 2006); Msia Kibona Clark, Phiwo-kuhle Mnyandu, and Loy Azalia, eds., *Pan-African Spaces: Essays on Black Transnationalism* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2018); Kofi Kissi Dompere, *African Union: Pan-African Analytical Foundations* (London: Adonis & Abbey Publishers, 2006); Rita Kiki Edozie, *The African Union’s Africa: New Pan-African Initiatives in Global Governance*, with Keith Gottschalk (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2014); Toyin Falola and Kwame Essien, eds., *Pan-Africanism: The Politics of African Citizenship and Identity* (London: Routledge, 2015); Imanuel Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement: A History of Pan-Africanism in America, Europe, and Africa* (London: Methuen, 1974); Reginald H. Green and Ann Seidman, *Unity or Poverty?: The Economics of Pan-Africanism* (Harmondsworth: Penguin Books, 1968); C.L.R. James, *A History of Pan-African Revolt* (New York: Haskell House Publishers, 1969); J. Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa, 1900–1945* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1973); Colin Legum, *Pan-Africanism: A Short Political Guide* (Westport: Greenwood Press, 1976); John Karefah Marah, *African People in the Global Village: An Introduction to Pan-African Studies* (Lanham: University Press of America, 1998); John Karefah Marah, *Pan-African Education: A Must for the African Union* (London: Routledge, 2017); Seth M. Markle, *A Motorcycle on Hell Run: Tanzania, Black Power, and the Uncertain Future of Pan-Africanism, 1964–1974* (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2017); Tony Martin, *Pan-African Connection: From Slavery to Garvey and Beyond* (Dover: Majority Press, 1983); Ibrahim Assane Mayaki, *Africa’s Critical Choices: A Call for a Pan-African Roadmap* (New York: Routledge, 2019); Boatamo Mosupye and Mogobe B. Ramose, *The Development of Thought in Pan-Africanism* (Dubuque: Kendall Hunt, 2011); Mammo Muchie, ed., *The Making of the Africa-Nation: Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance* (London: Adonis & Abbey Publishers, 2003); Timothy Murithi, *The African Union: Pan-Africanism, Peacebuilding and Development* (London: Routledge, 2017); Godfrey Mwakikagile, *Relations Between Africans, African Americans and Afro-Caribbeans: Tensions, Indifference and Harmony* (Pretoria: New Africa Press, 2007); Abdias do Nascimento and Elisa Larkin Nascimento,

- Africans in Brazil: A Pan-African Perspective* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1992); Don C. Ohadike, *Pan-African Culture of Resistance: A History of Liberation Struggles in Africa and the Diaspora* (Binghamton: Global Academic Publishing, 2002); George Padmore, ed., *Colonial and Coloured Unity: A Programme of Action—History of the Pan-African Congress* (London: Hammersmith, 1963); Thomas E. Smith, *Emancipation Without Equality: Pan-African Activism and the Global Color-Line* (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 2018); Vincent Bakpetu Thompson, *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism* (London: Longman, 1977); Ronald W. Walters, *Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora: An Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements* (Detroit: Wayne State University Press, 2000); Njoki Nathani Wane and Akena Francis Adyanga, eds., *Historical and Contemporary Pan-Africanism and the Quest for African Renaissance* (Newcastle upon Tyne, UK: Cambridge Scholars Publishing, 2019); Justin Williams, *Pan-Africanism in Ghana: African Socialism, Neoliberalism, and Globalization* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2016); Rodney Worrell, *Pan-Africanism in Barbados: An Analysis of the Activities of the Major 20th-century Pan-African Formations in Barbados* (Washington, D.C.: New Academia Publishing, 2005); Josiah U. Young, *Pan-African Theology: Providence and the Legacies of the Ancestors* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1992).
- 3 Peter Olisanwuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991* (Washington, D. C.: Howard University Press, 1994), 7–8.
 - 4 For further discussion of black internationalism, see Charisse Burden-Stelly and Gerald Horne’s brilliant elaborative essay in Part I of this volume.
 - 5 For further discussion of black internationalism, as well as its relationship to Pan-Africanism, see Keisha N. Blain, *Set the World on Fire: Black Nationalist Women and the Global Struggle for Freedom* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2018); Keisha Blain and Tiffany Gill, eds., *To Turn the Whole World Over: Black Women and Internationalism* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2019); Roderick Bush, *The End of White World Supremacy: Black Internationalism and the Problem of the Color-Line* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2009); Nadi Edwards, “Diaspora, Difference, and Black Internationalisms,” *Small Axe* 9, no. 1 (2005): 120–128; Robeson Taj Frazier, “Sketches of Black Internationalism and Transnationalism,” *Journal of African American History* 96, no. 2 (2011): 231–235; Marc S. Gallicchio, *The African American Encounter with Japan and China: Black Internationalism in Asia, 1895–1945* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000); Brent Hayes Edwards, *The Practice of Diaspora: Literature, Translation, and the Rise of Black Internationalism* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2003); Nicholas Grant, *Winning Our Freedoms Together: African Americans and Apartheid, 1945–1960* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2017); Winston A. James, *Holding Aloft the Banner of Ethiopia: Caribbean Radicalism in Early Twentieth Century America* (London: Verso, 1998); John Lowney, *Jazz Internationalism: Literary Afro-Modernism and the Cultural Politics of Black Music* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2017); Anne Garland Mahler, *From the Tricontinental to the Global South: Race, Radicalism, and Transnational Solidarity* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2018); Minkah Makalani, *In the Cause of Freedom: Radical Black Internationalism from Harlem to London, 1917–1939* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2014); Sean L. Malloy, *Out of Oakland: Black Panther Party Internationalism during the Cold War* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 2017); John Munro, *The Anticolonial Front: The African American Freedom Struggle and Global Decolonisation, 1945–1960* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017); Thomas J. Noer, *Cold War and Black Liberation: The United States and White Rule in Africa* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1985); Lara Putnam, *Radical Moves: Caribbean Migrants and the Politics of Race in the Jazz Age* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013); Cedric J. Robinson, *On Racial Capitalism, Black Internationalism, and Cultures of Resistance* (London: Pluto Press, 2019); Jonathan Rosenberg, *How Far the Promised Land?: World Affairs and the American Civil Rights Movement from the First World War to Vietnam* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2005); Etsuko Taketani, *The Black Pacific Narrative: Geographic Imaginings of Race and Empire between the World Wars* (Hanover: Dartmouth College Press, 2014); Alvin B. Tillery, *Between Homeland and Motherland: Africa, U.S. Foreign Policy, and Black Leadership in America* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 2011); Penny M. Von Eschen, *Race against Empire: Black Americans and Anti-Colonialism, 1937–1957* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1997); Wendy W. Walters, *At Home in Diaspora: Black International Writing* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press 2005); Michael O. West, William G. Martin, and Fanon Che Wilkins, eds., *From Toussaint to Tupac: The Black International since the Age of Revolution* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2009); Fanon Che Wilkins, “The Making of Black Internationalists: SNCC and Africa before the Launching of Black Power, 1960–1965,” *Journal of African American History* 92, no. 4 (2007): 467–490.

- 6 Alexandre Mboukou, "The Pan-African Movement, 1900–1945: A Study in Leadership Conflicts Among the Disciples of Pan-Africanism," *Journal of Black Studies* 13, no. 3 (1983): 277. For a related critique of nineteenth century African American nationalists and Pan-Africanists Martin Delaney, Alexander Crummell, and Henry McNeal Turner, see Tunde Adeleke, "Black Americans and Africa: A Critique of the Pan-African and Identity Paradigms," *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 31, no. 3 (1998): 505–536; Tunde Adeleke, "Black Americans, Africa and History: A Reassessment of the Pan-African and Identity Paradigms," *Western Journal of Black Studies* 22, no. 3 (1998): 182–194; Tunde Adeleke, *UnAfrican Americans: Nineteenth-Century Black Nationalists and the Civilizing Mission* (Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1998). And, for a critique of twentieth century Afrocentricists and Pan-Africanists such as Molefi Asante, Marimba Ani, Maulana Karenga, and John Henrik Clarke, see Tunde Adeleke, *The Case against Afrocentrism* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2009) and Tunde Adeleke, "Africa and Afrocentric Historicism: A Critique," *Advances in Historical Studies* 4, no. 3 (2015): 200–215.
- 7 Mboukou, "The Pan-African Movement," 278. For further discussion of diasporan Africans' attitudes toward, and consciousness of Africa, see Adeleke, "Black Americans and Africa," 505–536; Adeleke, *UnAfrican Americans*; Tunde Adeleke, *Africa in Black Liberation Activism: Malcolm X, Stokely Carmichael and Walter Rodney* (London: Routledge, 2016); Leslie M. Alexander, *African or American?: Black Identity and Political Activism in New York City, 1784–1861* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2008); Nemata Amelia Ibitayo Blyden, *African Americans and Africa: A New History* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2019); Dickson D. Bruce, "Ancient Africa and the Early Black American Historians, 1883–1915," *American Quarterly* 36, no. 5 (1984): 684–699; Margaret E. Crahan and Franklin W. Knight, eds., *Africa and the Caribbean: Legacies of a Link* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1979); Patricia de Santana Pinho, *Mama Africa: Reinventing Blackness in Bahia* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2010); Ron Eyerman, *Cultural Trauma: Slavery and the Formation of African American Identity* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2001); Paul Christopher Johnson, *Diaspora Conversions: Black Carib Religion and the Recovery of Africa* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2007); Kadiatu Kanneh, *African Identities: Race, Nation, and Culture in Ethnography, Pan-Africanism, and Black Literatures* (London: Routledge, 1998); Bernard Makhosezwe Magubane, *The Ties That Bind: African American Consciousness of Africa* (Trenton: Africa World, 1987); James H. Meriwether, *Proudly We Can Be Africans: Black Americans and Africa, 1935–1961* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002); Olatunji Ojo and Nadine Hunt, eds., *Slavery in Africa and the Caribbean: A History of Enslavement and Identity Since the Eighteenth Century* (London: I.B. Tauris/Bloomsbury, 2012); Samuel Oloruntoba, ed., *Africa and Its Diaspora: History, Identities and Economy* (Austin: Pan-African University Press, 2017); Livio Sansone, Elisee Soumonni, and Boubacar Barry, eds., *Africa, Brazil, and the Construction of Trans-Atlantic Black Identities* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2007); Jas M. Sullivan and Ashraf Esmail, eds., *African American Identity: Racial and Cultural Dimensions of the Black Experience* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2014); Maureen Warner-Lewis, *Central Africa in the Caribbean: Transcending Time, Transforming Cultures* (Kingston: University of the West Indies Press, 2003).
- 8 For further discussion of double-consciousness, see Ernest Allen, "Ever Feeling One's Twoness: 'Double Ideals' and 'Double Consciousness' in *The Souls of Black Folk*," *Critique of Anthropology* 12, no. 3 (1992): 261–275; Ernest Allen, "Du Boisian Double-Consciousness: The Unsustainable Argument," *Massachusetts Review* 43, no. 2 (2002): 217–253; Lawrie Balfour, "'A Most Disagreeable Mirror': Race Consciousness as Double-Consciousness," *Political Theory* 26, no. 3 (1998): 346–369; Judith R. Blau and Eric S. Brown, "Du Bois and Diasporic Identity: The Veil and the Unveiling Project," *Sociological Theory* 19, no. 2 (2001): 219–233; David W. Blight, "Up from 'Twoness': Frederick Douglass and the Meaning of W.E.B. Du Bois's Concept of Double-Consciousness," *Canadian Review of American Studies* 21, no. 3 (1990): 301–320; Vilashini Cooppan, "The Double Politics of Double-Consciousness: Nationalism and Globalism in *The Souls of Black Folk*," *Public Culture* 17, no. 2 (2005): 299–318; Samir Dayal, "Diaspora and Double-Consciousness," *Journal of the Midwest Modern Language Association* 29, no. 1 (1996): 46–62; Emmanuel C. Eze, "On Double-Consciousness," *Callaloo* 34, no. 3 (2011): 877–898; Michael A. Gomez, "Of Du Bois and Diaspora: The Challenge of African American Studies," *Journal of Black Studies* 35, no. 2 (2004): 175–194; Paul W. Harris, "Racial Identity and the Civilizing Mission: Double-Consciousness at the 1895 Congress on Africa," *Religion and American Culture* 18, no. 2 (2008): 145–176; José Itzigsohn and Karida Brown, "Sociology and the Theory of Double-Consciousness: W.E.B. Du Bois's Phenomenology of Racialized Subjectivity," *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race* 12, no.

- 2 (2015): 231–248; Frank M. Kirkland, “On Du Bois’s Notion of Double-Consciousness,” *Philosophy Compass* 8, no. 2 (2013): 137–148; Mikhail Lyubansky and Roy J. Eidelson, “Revisiting Du Bois: The Relationship Between African American Double-Consciousness and Beliefs about Racial and National Group Experiences,” *Journal of Black Psychology* 31, no. 1 (2005): 3–26; Reiland Rabaka, “The Discourse on Double-Consciousness,” in *Keywords for African American Studies*, eds. Erica R. Edwards, Roderick A. Ferguson, and Jeffrey O.G. Ogbar (New York: New York University Press, 2018), 75–78; Rajagopalan Radhakrishnan, “Race and Double-Consciousness,” *Works and Days* 24, no. 1 (2006): 45–67; Anne Warfield Rawls, “‘Race’ as an Interaction Order Phenomenon: W.E.B. Du Bois’s ‘Double-Consciousness’ Thesis Revisited,” *Sociological Theory* 18, no. 2 (2000): 241–274; Doris Sommer, “A Vindication of Double-Consciousness,” in *A Companion to Postcolonial Studies*, eds. Henry Schwarz and Sangeeta Ray (Malden: Blackwell, 2000), 165–179.
- 9 For further discussion of the “divide and conquer (or, rather, ‘divide and rule’) strategy and what has been termed the ‘scramble for Africa,’ see Padraig Carmody, *The New Scramble for Africa* (Cambridge: Polity Press, 2016); Muriel Evelyn Chamberlain, *The Scramble for Africa* (London: Routledge, 2013); Sibyl Crowe, *The Berlin West African Conference, 1884–1885* (Westport: Negro Universities Press, 1970); Leigh Gardner, *Taxing Colonial Africa: The Political Economy of British Imperialism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2012); Kenneth Kalu and Toyin Falola, eds., *Oppression and Resistance in Africa and the Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2019); Kenneth Kalu and Toyin Falola, eds., *Exploitation and Misrule in Colonial and Postcolonial Africa* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2019); Tukumbi Lumumba-Kasongo, *Political Re-Mapping of Africa: Transnational Ideology and the Redefinition of Africa in World Politics* (Lanham: University Press of America, 1993); John Mackenzie, *The Partition of Africa: European Imperialism, 1880–1900* (London: Routledge, 1983); Mostafa Minawi, *The Ottoman Scramble for Africa: Empire and Diplomacy in the Sahara and the Hijaz* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 2016); Thomas Pakenham, *The Scramble for Africa: White Man’s Conquest of the Dark Continent, 1876–1912* (New York: Perennial, 1991); Steven Press, *Rogue Empires: Contracts and Conmen in Europe’s Scramble for Africa* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2017); Ronald Robinson and John A. Gallagher, *Africa and the Victorians: The Official Mind of Imperialism*, with Alice Denny (London: I.B. Tauris, 2015); Amadu Sesay, ed., *Africa and Europe: From Partition to Independence or Dependence?* (London: Routledge, 2011); Tapiwa V. Warikandwa and Artwell Nhemachena, eds., *Transnational Land Grabs and Restitution in an Age of the (De-)Militarised New Scramble for Africa: A Pan-African Socio-Legal Perspective* (Bamenda, Cameroon: Langaa Research & Publishing, 2017); Lee Wengraf, *Extracting Profit: Imperialism, Neoliberalism and the New Scramble for Africa* (Chicago: Haymarket Books, 2018); Henri L. Wesseling, *Divide and Rule: The Partition of Africa, 1880–1914* (London: Praeger, 1996).
- 10 My discussion of “dialectical Pan-Africanism” has been informed by Rodney D. Coates, “Social Action, Radical Dialectics, and Popular Protests: Treatment of African American Leaders and Intellectuals by the Press,” *Journal of Black Studies* 30, no. 1 (1999): 85–102; Reiland Rabaka, *Du Bois’s Dialectics: Black Radical Politics and the Reconstruction of Critical Social Theory* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield Publishers, 2008); Ato Sekyi-Otu, *Fanon’s Dialectic of Experience* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1996); Keyan G. Tomaselli, “Dialectical Intellectuals, Essentialism and the African Renaissance,” *Journal of Cultural Studies* 5, no. 1 (2003): 1–34; James E. Turner, “Historical Dialectics of Black Nationalist Movements in America,” *Western Journal of Black Studies* 1, no. 3 (1977): 164–183.
- 11 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 2.
- 12 Jabez Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa, 1900–1945* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1973), 368.
- 13 Kurt B. Young, “Towards a Holistic Review of Pan-Africanism: Linking the Idea and the Movement,” *Nationalism and Ethnic Politics* 16, no. 2 (2010): 142.
- 14 Rayford W. Logan, “The Historical Aspects of Pan-Africanism: A Personal Chronicle,” *African Forum* 1, no. 1 (1965): 90.
- 15 For further discussion of Henry Sylvester Williams and his Pan-Africanism, see James R. Hooker, *Henry Sylvester Williams: Imperial Pan-Africanist* (London: Collings, 1975); Owen Charles Mathurin, *Henry Sylvester Williams and the Origins of the Pan-African Movement, 1869–1911* (Westport: Greenwood Press, 1976); Marika Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa, and the African Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2012).
- 16 For further discussion of Du Bois’s Pan-Africanism, see my chapter, “W.E.B. Du Bois: From Pioneering Pan-Negroism to Revolutionary Pan-Africanism,” in Part II of this volume.

- 17 For further discussion of the All African People's Conference held in Accra in 1958, see Joseph Hongoh, "The Asian-African Conference (Bandung) and Pan-Africanism: The Challenge of Reconciling Continental Solidarity with National Sovereignty," *Australian Journal of International Affairs* 70, no. 4 (2016): 374–390; Bross W. Lloyd, "The Significance of the Bandung, Cairo, and Accra Conferences," *Race Relations Journal* 26, no. 4 (1959): 135–144; Ikechukwu Anthony Kanu, "Nkrumah and the Quest for African Unity," *American International Journal of Contemporary Research* 3, no. 6 (2013): 111–114; George Shepperson and St. Clare Drake, "The Fifth Pan-African Conference, 1945 and the All-African Peoples' Congress, 1958," *Contributions in Black Studies* 8, no. 1 (1986): 35–66.
- 18 Vincent Bakpetu Thompson, *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism* (London: Longman, 1977), xxiii.
- 19 For further discussion of W.E.B. Du Bois's evolution from conservatism to radicalism, see William E. Cain, "From Liberalism to Communism: The Political Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois," in *Culture of United States Imperialism*, eds. Amy Kaplan and Donald E. Pease (Durham: Duke University Press, 1993), 456–473; Joseph P. DeMarco, *The Social Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois* (Lanham, MD: University Press of America, 1983), 63–104; William Avon Drake, "From Reform to Communism: The Intellectual Development of W.E.B. Du Bois" (Ph.D. dissertation, Cornell University, Ithaca, NY, 1985); Thomas C. Holt, "The Political Uses of Alienation: W.E.B. Du Bois on Politics, Race, and Culture, 1903–1940," *American Quarterly* 42, no. 2 (1990): 301–323; Gerald Horne, *Black and Red: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Afro-American Response to the Cold War, 1944–1963* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1986); Manning Marable, "Reconstructing the Radical Du Bois," *Souls* 7, no. 3–4 (2005): 1–25; Manning Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Black Radical Democrat* (Boston: Twayne, 1986); Bill Mullen, *Un-American: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Century of World Revolution* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2015); Bill Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Revolutionary Across the Color-Line* (London: Pluto Press, 2016); Reiland Rabaka, *W.E.B. Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2007); Rabaka, *Du Bois's Dialectics*; Adolph L. Reed, *W. E. B. Du Bois and American Political Thought: Fabianism and the Color-Line* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997); William M. Tuttle, "W.E.B. Du Bois's Confrontation with White Liberalism during the Progressive Era," *Phylon* 35, no. 3 (1974): 241–258; Jarvis Tyner, "From the Talented Tenth to the Communist Party: The Evolution of W.E.B. Du Bois," *Political Affairs* 76, no. 2 (1997): 5–9.
- 20 St. Clair Drake, "Diaspora Studies and Pan-Africanism," in *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora*, ed. Joseph E. Harris (Washington, DC: Howard University Press, 1993), 453.
- 21 Anthony Bogues, "C.L.R. James, Pan-Africanism, and the Black Radical Tradition," *Critical Arts* 25, no. 4 (2011): 484, 486.
- 22 Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*, 4.
- 23 For further discussion of late twentieth century and early twenty-first century Pan-Africanism, see Abdul-Raheem, *Pan-Africanism*; Olayiwola Abegunrin, *Africa in Global Politics in the Twenty-First Century: A Pan-African Perspective* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013); Paul G. Adogamhe, "Pan-Africanism Revisited: Vision and Reality of African Unity and Development," *African Review of Integration* 2, no. 2 (2008): 1–34; Horace Campbell, "Pan-African Renewal in the Twenty-First Century," *African Journal of Political Science/Revue Africaine De Science Politique* 1, no. 1 (1996): 84–98; Chen Chimutengwende, "Pan-Africanism and the Second Liberation of Africa," *Race & Class* 38, no. 3 (1997): 25–33; Nontyatyambo Pearl Dastile and Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, "Power, Knowledge and Being: Decolonial Combative Discourse as a Survival Kit for Pan-Africanists in the twenty-first century," *Alternation* 20, no. 1 (2013): 105–134; Falola and Essien, *Pan-Africanism*; Ali A. Mazrui, "Pan-Africanism and the Intellectuals: Rise, Decline, and Revival," in *African Intellectuals: Rethinking Politics, Language, Gender, and Development*, ed. P. Thandika Mkan-dawire (London: Zed Books, 2005), 56–77; Mammo Muchie, Phindil Lukhele-Olorunju, and Oghenerobor Akpor, eds., *The African Union Ten Years After: Solving African Problems with Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance* (Pretoria: Institute of South Africa, 2013); Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, "The Entrapment of Africa within the Global Colonial Matrices of Power: Eurocentrism, Coloniality, and De-Imperialization in the Twenty-First Century," *Journal of Developing Societies* 29, no. 4 (2013): 331–353; Stephen Okhonmina, "The African Union: Pan-Africanist Aspirations and the Challenge of African Unity," *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 3, no. 4 (2009): 85–100.
- 24 Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*, 4.
- 25 *Ibid.*, 4–5.

- 26 For further discussion of Pan-Africanist and black internationalist women and their inimitable work, see Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 19–23, 46–59; Rawwida Baksh-Soodeen, “Issues of Difference in Contemporary Caribbean Feminism,” *Feminist Review* 59, no. 1 (1998): 74–85; V. Eudine Barribeau, ed., *Confronting Power, Theorizing Gender: Interdisciplinary Perspectives in the Caribbean* (Kingston: University of West Indies Press, 2003); V. Eudine Barribeau, ed., *Love and Power: Caribbean Discourses on Gender* (Kingston: University of the West Indies Press, 2012); Keisha N. Blain, *Set the World on Fire: Black Nationalist Women and the Global Struggle for Freedom* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2018); Keisha Blain and Tiffany Gill, eds., *To Turn the Whole World Over: Black Women and Internationalism* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2019); Brittney C. Cooper, *Beyond Respectability: The Intellectual Thought of Race Women* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2017); Carole Boyce Davies, *Left of Karl Marx: The Political Life of Black Communist Claudia Jones* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2007); Carole Boyce Davies, “Pan-Africanism, Transnational Black Feminism and the Limits of Culturalist Analyses in African Gender Discourses,” *Feminist Africa* 19 (2014): 78–93; Carole Boyce Davies, “Sisters Outside: Tracing the Caribbean/Black Radical Intellectual Tradition,” *Small Axe* 13, no. 1 (2009): 217–229; Ashley D. Farmer, “Mothers of Pan-Africanism: Audley Moore and Dara Abubakari,” *Women, Gender, and Families of Color* 4, no. 2 (2016): 274–295; Ashley Farmer, “Reframing African American Women’s Grassroots Organizing: Audley Moore and the Universal Association of Ethiopian Women, 1957–1963,” *Journal of African American History* 101, no. 1–2 (2016): 69–96; Kevin Gaines, “From Center to Margin: Internationalism and the Origins of Black Feminism,” in *Materializing Democracy: Toward a Revitalized Cultural Politics*, eds. Russ Castronovo and Dana D. Nelson (Durham: Duke University Press, 2002), 294–313; Nicholas Grant, “The National Council of Negro Women and South Africa: Black Internationalism, Motherhood, and the Cold War,” *Palimpsest* 5, no. 1 (2016): 59–87; Annette K. Joseph-Gabriel, *Reimagining Liberation: How Black Women Transformed Citizenship in the French Empire* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2019); Dayo F. Gore, *Radicalism at the Crossroads: African American Women Activists in the Cold War* (New York: New York University Press, 2012); Cheryl Higashida, *Black Internationalist Feminism: Women Writers of the Black Left, 1945–1995* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2011); Erik S. McDuffie, “‘I Wanted a Communist Philosophy, But I Wanted Us to Have a Chance to Organize Our People’: The Diasporic Radicalism of Queen Mother Audley Moore and the Origins of Black Power,” *African and Black Diaspora: An International Journal* 3, no. 2 (2010): 181–195; Erik S. McDuffie, *Sojourning for Freedom: Black Women, American Communism, and the Making of Black Left Feminism* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2011); Erik S. McDuffie, “‘For Full Freedom of ... Colored Women in Africa, Asia, and in these United States’: Black Women Radicals and the Practice of a Black Women’s International,” *Palimpsest* 1, no. 1 (2012): 1–30; Patricia Mohammed, ed., *Gendered Realities: Essays in Caribbean Feminist Thought* (Kingston: University of West Indies Press, 2002); Patricia Mohammed, “Like Sugar in Coffee: Third Wave Feminism and the Caribbean,” *Social and Economic Studies* 52, no. 3 (2003): 5–30; Patricia Mohammed, “Towards Indigenous Feminist Theorizing in the Caribbean,” *Feminist Review* 59, no. 1 (1998): 6–33; López Springfield Consuelo, ed., *Daughters of Caliban: Caribbean Women in the Twentieth Century* (Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 1997); Imaobong Denis Umoren, *Race Women Internationalists: Activist-Intellectuals and Global Freedom Struggles* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2018); Teresa Zackodnik, “Recirculation and Feminist Black Internationalism in Jessie Fauset’s ‘The Looking Glass’ and Amy Jacques Garvey’s ‘Our Women and What They Think,’ *Modernism/Modernity* 19, no. 3 (2012): 437–459. See also the chapters by Lyn Ossome, Ashley Farmer, and Kathleen Sheldon in this volume.
- 27 Blain quoted in Kathryn Vaggalis, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism: An Interview with Keisha N. Blain,” *Black Perspectives*, 17 October 2016, www.aaihs.org/women-gender-politics-and-pan-africanism-an-interview-with-keisha-n-blain/.
- 28 Blain quoted in Vaggalis, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism.”
- 29 Keisha N. Blain, Asia Leeds and Ula Y. Taylor, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism,” *Women, Gender, and Families of Color* 4, no. 2 (2016): 139–145; Rhoda Reddock, “Gender Equality, Pan-Africanism, and the Diaspora,” *International Journal of African Renaissance Studies* 2, no. 2 (2007): 255–267; Ula Y. Taylor, “Read[ing] Men and Nations’: Women in the Black Radical Tradition,” *Souls* 1, no. 4 (1999): 72–80.
- 30 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 19–23.
- 31 For further discussion of women leaders and members of the Universal Negro Improvement Association (or, rather, the “Garvey Movement”), see Karen S. Adler, “‘Always Leading Our Men in

- Service and Sacrifice': Amy Jacques Garvey, Feminist Black Nationalist," *Gender & Society* 6, no. 3 (1992): 346–375; Keisha N. Blain, "'Confraternity Among All Dark Races': Mittie Maude Lena Gordon and the Practice of Black (Inter)nationalism in Chicago, 1932–1942," *Palimpsest* 5, no. 2 (2016): 151–181; Blain, *Set the World on Fire*, 11–46; Keisha N. Blain, "'We Want to Set the World on Fire': Black Nationalist Women and Diasporic Politics in *The New Negro World*, 1940–1944," *Journal of Social History* 49, no. 1 (2015): 194–212; Keisha N. Blain, "Uncovering the Silences of Black Women's Voices in the Age of Garvey," *Black Perspectives*, 29 November 2015, www.aaihs.org/uncovering-the-silences/; Natanya Duncan, "If Our Men Hesitate Then the Women of the Race Must Come Forward: Henrietta Vinton Davis and the UNIA in New York," *New York History* 94, no. 1 (Fall 2015): 558–583; Reena Goldthree, "Amy Jacques Garvey, Theodore Bilbo, and the Paradoxes of Black Nationalism," in *Global Circuits of Blackness: Interrogating the African Diaspora*, eds. Jean Muteba Rahier, Percy C. Hintzen, and Felipe Smith (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2010), 152–173; Asia Leeds, "'Toward the Higher Type of Womanhood': The Gendered Contours of Garveyism and the Making of Redemptive Geographies in Costa Rica, 1922–1941," *Palimpsest* 2, no. 1 (2013): 1–27; Minkah Makalani, "An International African Opinion: Amy Ashwood Garvey and C.L.R. James in Black Radical London" in *Escape From New York: The New Negro Renaissance Beyond Harlem*, eds. Davarian L. Baldwin and Minkah Makalani (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2013), 77–101; Tony Martin, *Amy Ashwood Garvey: Pan-Africanist, Feminist, and Wife No. 1* (Dover, MA: Majority Press, 2007); Mark D. Matthews, "'Our Women and What They Think': Amy Jacques Garvey and *The New Negro World*," *The Black Scholar* 10, no. 8–9 (1979): 2–13; Courtney Desiree Morris, "Becoming Creole, Becoming Black: Migration, Diasporic Self-Making, and the Many Lives of Madame Maymie Leona Turpeau de Mena," *Women, Gender, and Families of Color* 4, no. 2 (2016): 171–195; Rhoda Reddock, "The First Mrs. Garvey: Pan-Africanism and Feminism in the Early Twentieth Century British Colonial Caribbean," *Feminist Africa* 19 (2014): 58–77; Nydia A. Swaby, "Amy Ashwood Garvey and the Political Aesthetics of Diasporic Social Spaces in London," *Symbolism: An International Annual of Critical Aesthetics, Volume 14*, eds., Rüdiger Ahrens, Klaus Stierstorfer, and Florian Kläger (Berlin: Walter de Gruyter GmbH, 2014), 59–73; Ula Y. Taylor, "Intellectual Pan-African Feminists: Amy Ashwood-Garvey and Amy Jacques-Garvey," in *Time Longer than Rope: A Century of African American Activism, 1850–1950*, eds. Charles M. Payne and Adam Green (New York: New York University Press, 2003), 179–195; Ula Y. Taylor, "'Negro Women Are Great Thinkers as Well as Doers': Amy Jacques Garvey and Community Feminism, 1924–1927," *Journal of Women's History* 12, no. 2 (2000): 104–126; Ula Y. Taylor, *The Veiled Garvey: The Life and Times of Amy Jacques Garvey* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2003); Lionel M. Yard, *Biography of Amy Ashwood Garvey, 1897–1969: Co-Founder of the Universal Negro Improvement Association* (New York: Associated Publishers, 1988).
- 32 Abayomi Azikiwe, "Pan-Africanism, Women's Rights and Socialist Development," *Global Research*, 30 August 2016, www.globalresearch.ca/pan-africanism-womens-rights-and-socialist-development/5542994; Sylvia Bawa and Francis Sanyare, "Women's Participation and Representation in Politics: Perspectives from Ghana," *International Journal of Public Administration* 36, no. 4 (2013): 282–291; Jessica Cammaert, *Undesirable Practices: Women, Children, and the Politics of the Body in Northern Ghana, 1930–1972* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 2016); Kathleen M. Fallon, "Transforming Women's Citizenship Rights within an Emerging Democratic State: The Case of Ghana," *Gender & Society* 17, no. 4 (2003): 525–543; Miranda Greenstreet, "Social Change and Ghanaian Women," *Canadian Journal of African Studies/Revue Canadienne des Études Africaines* 6, no. 2 (1972): 351–355.
 - 33 Ajamu Nangwaya, "Pan-Africanism, Feminism, and Finding Missing Pan-Africanist Women," *Black Perspectives*, 31 May 2016, www.aaihs.org/pan-africanism-feminism-and-finding-missing-pan-africanist-women/.
 - 34 Blain, Leeds and Taylor, "Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism," 139–145; Davies, "Pan-Africanism, Transnational Black Feminism and the Limits of Culturalist Analyses in African Gender Discourses," 78–93; Reddock, "Gender Equality, Pan-Africanism and the Diaspora," 255–267; Taylor, "Read[ing] Men and Nations," 72–80.
 - 35 Ackah, *Pan-Africanism*, 1–35; Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 1–5; W.E.B. Du Bois, "To the Nations of the World," in *Report of the Pan-African Conference, held on 23rd, 24th, and 25th July 1900, at Westminster Town Hall*, eds. Alexander Walters, Henry Sylvester Williams, Henry B. Brown, and W.E.B. Du Bois (London: Pan-African Conference Committee, 1900), 10–12; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Pan-

- African Congress,” *Crisis* 17, no. 6 (1919): 271–274; W.E.B. Du Bois, “Pan-Africa,” *Crisis* 21, no. 5 (1921): 198–199; W.E.B. Du Bois, “To the World: Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress,” *Crisis* 23, no. 1 (1921): 5–10; W.E.B. Du Bois, “A Second Journey to Pan-African,” *New Republic* 29 (December 1921): 39–41; W.E.B. Du Bois, “Africa for Africans,” *Crisis* 23, no. 4 (1922): 151–155; W.E.B. Du Bois, “Back to Africa,” *Century Magazine* (February 1923): 539–548; W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Pan-African Congresses,” *Crisis* 34, no. 8 (1927): 263–264; W.E.B. Du Bois, “Pan-Africa and New Racial Philosophy,” *Crisis* 40, no. 2 (1933): 247, 262; W.E.B. Du Bois, “Pan-Africanism: A Mission in My Life,” *United Asia* 7 (March 1955): 23–28; W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Pan-African Movement,” in *Colonial and Coloured Unity: A Programme of Action—History of the Pan-African Congress*, ed. George Padmore (London: Hammersmith, 1963), 13–26; Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*, 3–38; Thompson, *Africa and Unity*, xxi–xxv.
- 36 Blain quoted in Vaggalis, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism.”
- 37 For further discussion of the black radical tradition, see Kehinde Andrews, *Back to Black: Retelling Black Radicalism for the Twenty-First Century* (London: Zed Books, 2018); Anthony Bogues, *Black Heretics, Black Prophets: Radical Political Intellectuals* (New York: Routledge, 2003); Robeson Taj Frazier, *The East Is Black: Cold War China in the Black Radical Imagination* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2014); Dayo F. Gore, Jeanne Theoharis, and Komozi Woodard, eds., *Want to Start a Revolution?: Radical Women in the Black Freedom Struggle* (New York: New York University Press, 2009); Erin Grey, Asad Haider, and Ben Mabie, eds., *Black Radical Tradition: A Reader* (London: Verso, 2020); Aaron Kamugisha, *Beyond Coloniality: Citizenship and Freedom in the Caribbean Intellectual Tradition* (Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2019); Robin D.G. Kelley, *Freedom Dreams: The Black Radical Imagination* (Boston: Beacon Press, 2002); Catherine Morris and Rujeko Hockley, eds., *We Wanted a Revolution: Black Radical Women, 1965–1985: New Perspectives* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2018); Fred Moten, *In The Break: The Aesthetics of the Black Radical Tradition* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2003); Jeffrey Ogbar, *Black Power: Radical Politics and African American Identity* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2004); H.L.T. Quan, “Geniuses of Resistance: Feminist Consciousness and the Black Radical Tradition,” *Race & Class* 47, no. 2 (2005): 39–53; Reiland Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory: Reconstructing the Black Radical Tradition*, from W.E.B. Du Bois and C.L.R. James to Frantz Fanon and Amílcar Cabral (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2009); Cedric J. Robinson, “C.L.R. James and the Black Radical Tradition,” *Review (Fernand Braudel Center)* 6, no. 3 (1983): 321–391; David Scott, “On the Very Idea of a Black Radical Tradition,” *Small Axe: A Caribbean Journal of Criticism* 17, no. 1 (2013): 1–6; Christopher M. Tinson, *Radical Intellect: Liberator Magazine and Black Activism in the 1960s* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2017); James Zeigler, *Red Scare Racism and Cold War Black Radicalism* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2015).
- 38 Lewis Gordon, “Introduction: Black Existential Philosophy,” in *Existence in Black: An Anthology of Black Existential Philosophy*, ed. Lewis R. Gordon (New York: Routledge, 1997), 4, all emphasis in original.
- 39 Ibid.
- 40 The phrase “white supremacist capitalist patriarchy” has been borrowed from bell hooks, *Killing Rage: Ending Racism* (New York: Henry Holt, 1995), 29. Consequently, I am building on her concept with my emphasis on “white supremacist colonialist capitalist heteropatriarchy,” which I conceive of as conceptually capturing the five key forms of imperialism continental and diasporan Africans must collectively confront in the twenty-first century: racism, sexism, heterosexism, colonialism, and capitalism. For further discussion of the critique of sexism and heterosexism within the Pan-African tradition, see the subsequent chapters in this volume by Lyn Ossome, Surya Monro, Zethu Matebeni and Vasu Reddy, Ashley Farmer, Kathleen Sheldon, and Adriaan Van Klinken.
- 41 My interpretation of black invisibility and anonymity has, of course, been deeply influenced by Ralph Ellison, *Invisible Man* (New York: Random House, 1952), as well as John F. Callahan, ed., *Ralph Ellison’s Invisible Man: A Casebook* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2004); Lewis R. Gordon, “Existential Dynamics of Theorizing Black Invisibility” in *Existence in Black: An Anthology of Black Existential Philosophy*, ed. Lewis R. Gordon (New York: Routledge, 1997), 69–79; Lewis R. Gordon, “On the Borders of Anonymity and Superfluous Invisibility,” *Cultural Dynamics* 12, no. 3 (2000): 375–383; Shelly Jarenski, “Invisibility Embraced: The Abject as a Site of Agency in Ellison’s *Invisible Man*,” *Melus* 35, no. 4 (2010): 85–109; Todd M. Lieber, “Ralph Ellison and the Metaphor of Invisibility in the Black Literary Tradition,” *American Quarterly* 24, no. 1 (1972):

- 86–100; Lucas E. Morel, ed., *Ralph Ellison and the Raft of Hope: A Political Companion to Invisible Man* (Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 2015); Alan Nadel, *Invisible Criticism: Ralph Ellison and the American Canon* (Iowa City: University of Iowa Press, 1988); Martha Craven Nussbaum, “Invisibility and Recognition: Sophocles’ *Philoctetes* and Ellison’s *Invisible Man*,” *Philosophy and Literature* 23, no. 2 (1999): 257–283; Thomas A. Parham, “Invisibility Syndrome in African Descent People: Understanding the Cultural Manifestations of the Struggle for Self-Affirmation,” *Counseling Psychologist* 27, no. 6 (1999): 794–801; Jeremy Weate, “Changing the Joke: Invisibility in Merleau-Ponty and Ellison,” *Philosophia Africana* 6, no. 1 (2003): 5–21.
- 42 For further discussion of black Marxism, see Abigail B. Bakan, “Marxism and Anti-Racism: Rethinking the Politics of Difference,” *Rethinking Marxism* 20, no. 2 (2008): 238–256; Jean Belkhir, “The ‘Failure’ and Revival of Marxism on Race, Gender & Class Issues,” *Race, Sex & Class* (1994): 79–107; Babacar Camara, *Marxist Theory, Black/African Specificities, and Racism* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2008); Davies, *Left of Karl Marx*; Anthony Dawahare, *Nationalism, Marxism, and African American Literature between the Wars: A New Pandora’s Box* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2002); Michael C. Dawson, *Blacks In and Out of the Left* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 2013); Carl Freedman, “Overdeterminations: On Black Marxism in Britain,” *Social Text* 8 (1983): 142–150; Dayo F. Gore, *Radicalism at the Crossroads: African American Women Activists in the Cold War* (New York: New York University Press, 2012); Gary Edward Holcomb, *Claude McKay, Code Name Sasha: Queer Black Marxism and the Harlem Renaissance* (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2007); Gaye Theresa Johnson and Alex Lubin, eds., *Futures of Black Radicalism* (London: Verso Books, 2017); Robin D.G. Kelley, *Hammer and Hoe: Alabama Communists during the Great Depression* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1990); Theodore Kornweibel, *Seeing Red: Federal Campaigns against Black Militancy, 1919–1925* (Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 1998); Anthony P. Maingot, *Race, Ideology, and the Decline of Caribbean Marxism* (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2015); William J. Maxwell, *New Negro, Old Left: African American Writing and Communism between the Wars* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1999); McDuffie, *Sojourning for Freedom*; Brian Meeks, *Caribbean Revolutions and Revolutionary Theory: An Assessment of Cuba, Nicaragua, and Grenada* (Kingston: University of West Indies Press, 2001); John H. McClendon III, “Marxism in Ebony Contra Black Marxism: Categorical Implications,” *ProudFlesh: New Afrikan Journal of Culture, Politics, and Consciousness* 6 (2007), 1–44; Charles W. Mills, *From Class to Race: Essays in White Marxism and Black Radicalism* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003); Nathaniel Mills, *Ragged Revolutionaries: The Lumpenproletariat and African American Marxism in Depression-Era Literature* (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 2017); Mark D. Naison, *Communists in Harlem during the Depression* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2005); Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 1–110; Reiland Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism: Frantz Fanon’s Critical Theory and the Dialectics of Decolonization* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2010), 145–216; Cedric J. Robinson, *An Anthropology of Marxism* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2019); Cedric Robinson, *Black Marxism: The Making of the Black Radical Tradition* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000); Robinson, *On Racial Capitalism*; David Roediger, *Class, Race and Marxism* (London: Verso Books, 2017); Mark Solomon, *The Cry Was Unity: Communists and African Americans, 1917–1936* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 1998); John Solomos and Les Back, “Marxism, Racism, and Ethnicity,” *American Behavioral Scientist* 38, no. 3 (1995): 407–420; Mary Stanton, *Red, Black, White: The Alabama Communist Party, 1930–1950* (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 2019); Frank Wilderson III, “Gramsci’s Black Marx: Whither the Slave in Civil Society?,” *Social Identities* 9, no. 2 (2003): 225–240; Jeff R. Woods, *Black Struggle, Red Scare: Segregation and Anti-Communism in the South, 1948–1968* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 2003).
- 43 Ama Biney, “Decolonial Turns and Development Discourse in Africa: Reflections on Masculinity and Pan-Africanism,” *Africanus* 43, no. 2 (2013): 78–92; Blain, Leeds and Taylor, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism,” 139–145; Assata Zerai, “Agents of Knowledge and Action: Selected Africana Scholars and Their Contributions to the Understanding of Race, Class, and Gender Intersectionality,” *Cultural Dynamics* 12, no. 2 (2000): 182–222.
- 44 Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787* (London: Routledge, 2003), vii.
- 45 For further discussion of these widely varied interpretations and articulations of the Pan-African idea and movement, see A.B. Assensoh, *African Political Leadership: Jomo Kenyatta, Kwame Nkrumah, and Julius K. Nyerere* (Malabar: Krieger, 1998); Mamadou Badiane, *The Changing Face of Afro-Caribbean Cultural Identity: Negrismo and Negritude* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2010); Paul Bjerck,

Building a Peaceful Nation: Julius Nyerere and the Establishment of Sovereignty in Tanzania, 1960–1964 (Rochester: University of Rochester Press, 2015); Paul Bjerck, *Julius Nyerere* (Athens: Ohio University Press, 2017); Blain, *Set the World on Fire*; Davies, *Left of Karl Marx*; Edwards, *The Practice of Diaspora*; Kanneh, *African Identities*; Shireen K. Lewis, *Race, Culture, and Identity: Francophone West African and Caribbean Literature and Theory from Négritude to Créolité* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2006); Stephanie Li, *Pan-African American Literature: Signifyin(g) Immigrants in the Twenty-First Century* (New Brunswick: Rutgers University Press, 2018); Makalani, *In the Cause of Freedom*; Mathurin, *Henry Sylvester Williams and the Origins of the Pan-African Movement*; Babacar M'Baye, *Black Cosmopolitanism and Anti-Colonialism: Pivotal Moments* (New York: Routledge, 2017); Reiland Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement: W.E.B. Du Bois, Leon Damas, Aime Cesaire, Leopold Senghor, Frantz Fanon, and the Evolution of an Insurgent Idea* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2015); Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*; Kersuze Simeon-Jones, *Literary and Socio-Political Writings of the Black Diaspora in the Nineteenth and Twentieth Centuries* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2010); Christel N. Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2005); Tracy Denean Sharpley-Whiting, *Negritude Women* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2003); Ula Y. Taylor, *The Veiled Garvey: The Life and Times of Amy Jacques Garvey* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2002); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Toward Full Re-Africanization: Policy and Principles of the Guinea Democratic Party* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1959); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Revolution, Culture, Pan-Africanisme* (Conakry: Bureau de Presse de la Présidence de la République, 1976); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Africa on the Move* (London: Panaf Books, 1979); Gary Wilder, *Freedom Time: Negritude, Decolonization, and the Future of the World* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2015).

46 Adi and Sherwood, *Pan-African History*, vii.

47 For further discussion of *Africanité*, see Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement*, 200–243.

48 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 2. For further discussion of the “African diaspora,” and its conception of Africa as the homeland, see Robert L. Adams, ed., *Rewriting the African Diaspora in Latin America and the Caribbean: Beyond Disciplinary and National Boundaries* (London: Routledge, 2014); Persephone Braham, ed., *African Diaspora in the Cultures of Latin America, the Caribbean, and the United States* (Newark: University of Delaware Press, 2015); Judith Byfield, LaRay Denzer, and Anthea Morrison, eds., *Gendering the African Diaspora: Women, Culture and Historical Change in the Caribbean and Nigerian Hinterland* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2010); Christine Chivallon, *The Black Diaspora of the Americas: Experiences and Theories Out of the Caribbean* (Kingston: Ian Randle Publishers, 2011); Michael L. Conniff and Thomas J. Davis, *Africans in the Americas: A History of the Black Diaspora* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1994); Jacob Drachler, ed., *Black Homeland/Black Diaspora: Cross-Currents of the African Relationship* (New York: Kennikat Press, 1975); Toyin Falola, ed., *The African Diaspora: Slavery, Modernity, and Globalization* (Rochester: University of Rochester Press, 2013); Michael Angelo Gomez, *Reversing Sail: A History of the African Diaspora* (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2005); Michael Angelo Gomez, ed., *Diasporic Africa: A Reader* (New York: New York University Press, 2006); Sandra Gunning, Tera W. Hunter, and Michele Mitchell, eds., *Dialogues of Dispersal: Gender, Sexuality, and African Diasporas* (Malden: Blackwell, 2004); Joseph E. Harris, ed., *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora* (Washington, D.C.: Howard University Press, 1993); Darlene Clark Hine, Trica Danielle Keaton, and Stephen Small, eds., *Black Europe and the African Diaspora* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2009); John O. Hunwick and Eve Troutt Powell, *The African Diaspora in the Mediterranean Lands of Islam* (Princeton: Markus Wiener Publishers, 2002); Jack Mangala, ed., *Africa and its Global Diaspora: The Policy and Politics of Emigration* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2017); Patrick Manning, *The African Diaspora: A History Through Culture* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2009); Akinwumi Ogundiran and Toyin Falola, eds., *Archaeology of Atlantic Africa and the African Diaspora* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2010); Isidore Okpewho, Carole Boyce Davies, and Ali Mazrui, eds., *The African Diaspora: African Origins and New World Identities* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1999); Isidore Okpewho and Nkiru Nzegwu, eds., *The New African Diaspora* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2009); Jean Muteba Rahier, Percy C. Hintzen, and Felipe Smith, eds., *Global Circuits of Blackness: Interrogating the African Diaspora* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2010); Ronald Segal, *The Black Diaspora: Five Centuries of the Black Experience Outside Africa* (New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 1996); Ronald Segal, *Islam's Black Slaves: The Other Black Diaspora* (New York: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2001); Cassander L. Smith, Nicholas R. Jones, and Miles P. Grier, eds., *Early Modern Black Diaspora Studies: A Critical Anthology* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2019); John K. Thornton, *Africa and Africans in the Making of the Atlantic World, 1400–1800* (Cambridge:

- Cambridge University Press, 1998); Sheila S. Walker, ed., *African Roots/American Cultures: Africa in the Creation of the Americas* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2001); Walters, *At Home in Diaspora*; Michelle M. Wright, *Becoming Black: Creating Identity in the African Diaspora* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2004).
- 49 For further discussion of the evolution and pluralization of Pan-African theory and praxis in the twenty-first century, see Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, "Decolonial Epistemic Perspective and Pan-African Unity in the Twenty-First Century," in *The African Union Ten Years After: Solving African Problems with Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance*, eds. Mammo Muchie, Phindil Lukhele-Olorunju, and Oghenerobor Akpor (Pretoria: Institute of South Africa, 2013), 385–409; Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, "Decoloniality as the Future of Africa," *History Compass* 13, no. 10 (2015): 485–496; Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, *Empire, Global Coloniality, and African Subjectivity* (New York: Berghahn Books, 2013); Sabelo J. Ndlovu-Gatsheni, "Perhaps Decoloniality is the Answer?: Critical Reflections on Development from a Decolonial Epistemic Perspective," *Africanus* 43, no. 2 (2013): 1–11; Samuel Oloruntoba, "Pan-Africanism, Knowledge Production, and the Third Liberation of Africa," *International Journal of African Renaissance Studies: Multi-, Inter- and Transdisciplinarity* 10, no. 1 (2015): 7–24; Kurt B. Young, "Pan-African Nationalism in Theory and Practice," *International Journal of Africana Studies* 15, no. 1 (2009): 31–56.
- 50 Wole Soyinka, "The African World and the Ethnocultural Debate," in *African Culture: The Rhythms of Unity*, eds. Molefi K. Asante and Kariamu Welsh Asante (Westport, CT: Greenwood, 1990), 19.
- 51 For more on Africa as more than its human and natural resources, but also a unique multicultural, transethnic, transgenerational, transnational, and transcontinental pluriverse drawn from and contributed to by both continental and diasporan Africans, see Drachler, *Black Homeland/Black Diaspora*; Gomez, *Diasporic Africa*; Gomez, *Reversing Sail*; Harris, *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora*; Kalu and Falola, *Oppression and Resistance in Africa and the Diaspora*; Manning, *The African Diaspora*; OgunDIRAN and Falola, *Archaeology of Atlantic Africa and the African Diaspora*; Okpewho, Davies and Mazrui, *The African Diaspora*; Okpewho and Nzegwu, *The New African Diaspora*; Katharina Schramm, *African Homecoming: Pan-African Ideology and Contested Heritage* (London: Routledge, 2016), 13–74; Smith, Jones, and Grier, *Early Modern Black Diaspora Studies*.
- 52 W.E.B. Du Bois, *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay Toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Company, 1940), 115.
- 53 For further discussion of Wole Soyinka and his distinct conception of Africa and the African world, see Wole Soyinka, *The Burden of Memory, the Muse of Forgiveness* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1998); Wole Soyinka, *Conversations with Wole Soyinka*, ed. Biodun Jeyifo (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2001); Wole Soyinka, *Myth, Literature, and the African World* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1990); Wole Soyinka, *Of Africa* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 2012); and Wole Soyinka, *The Open Sore of a Continent: A Personal Narrative of the Nigerian Crisis* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997). Major secondary sources on Wole Soyinka include James Gibbs, ed., *Critical Perspectives on Wole Soyinka* (Washington, D.C.: Three Continents Press, 1980); James Gibbs and Bernth Lindfors, eds., *Research on Wole Soyinka* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1993); Biodun Jeyifo, eds., *Perspectives on Wole Soyinka: Freedom and Complexity* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2001); Biodun Jeyifo, *Wole Soyinka: Politics, Poetics, and Postcolonialism* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004); Mpalive-Handson Msiska, *Wole Soyinka* (Plymouth: Northcote House, 1988); Onookome Okome, ed., *Ogun's Children: The Literature and Politics of Wole Soyinka Since the Nobel* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2003); Derek Wright, *Wole Soyinka: Life, Work, and Criticism* (New York: G.K. Hall & Co., 1999).
- 54 Gomez, *Reversing Sail*; Gomez, *Diasporic Africa*; Harris, *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora*; Mangala, *Africa and its Global Diaspora*; William G. Martin and Michael Oliver West, eds., *Out of One, Many Africas: Reconstructing the Study and Meaning of Africa* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1999), 1–38; OgunDIRAN and Falola, *Archaeology of Atlantic Africa and the African Diaspora*.
- 55 Young, "Towards a Holistic Review of Pan-Africanism," 151.
- 56 For further discussion of the incredible creolization of the precolonial, colonial and "postcolonial" African world, see Andrew Apter, "On African Origins: Creolization and Connaissance in Haitian Vodou," *American Ethnologist* 29, no. 2 (2002): 233–260; Gibril R. Cole, *The Krio of West Africa: Islam, Culture, Creolization, and Colonialism in the Nineteenth Century* (Athens: Ohio University Press, 2013); Cheikh Anta Diop, *Precolonial Black Africa* (Chicago: Lawrence Hill Books, 1987); Toyin Falola, *Africa, Vol. 1: African History Before 1885* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2000); Toyin Falola, *Africa, Vol. 2: African Cultures and Societies Before 1885* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press,

- 2000); Toyin Falola, *Africa, Vol. 3: Colonial Africa, 1885–1939* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2002); Toyin Falola, *Africa, Vol. 4, The End of Colonial Rule: Nationalism and Decolonization* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2002); Toyin Falola, *Africa, Vol. 5, Africa: Contemporary Africa* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2003); Toyin Falola and Steven J. Salm, eds., *Globalization and Urbanization in Africa* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2004); Toyin Falola and Aribidesi Usman, eds., *Movements, Borders, and Identities in Africa* (Rochester: University of Rochester Press, 2009); Ali Mazrui, *The Africans: A Triple Heritage* (Boston: Little, Brown and Company, 1986); Prem Misir, ed., *Cultural Identity and Creolization in National Unity: The Multiethnic Caribbean* (Lanham: University Press of America, 2006); David Northrup, *Africa's Discovery of Europe* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013); Derek R. Peterson, Kodzo Gavua, and Ciraj Rassool, eds., *The Politics of Heritage in Africa: Economies, Histories, and Infrastructures* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2015); Richard Price, "The Miracle of Creolization: A Retrospective," *New West Indian Guide/Nieuwe West-Indische Gids* 75, no. 1–2 (2001): 35–64; John Reader, *Africa: A Biography of the Continent* (New York: Vintage Books 1999); Kevin Shillington, *History of Africa* (Fourth Edition) (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2019); James H. Sweet, *Recreating Africa: Culture, Kinship, and Religion in the African-Portuguese World, 1441–1770* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2003); William H. Worger, Nancy L. Clark and Edward A. Alpers, *Africa and the West: A Documentary History, Volume 1: From the Slave Trade to Conquest, 1441–1905* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010); William H. Worger, Nancy L. Clark and Edward A. Alpers, *Africa and the West: A Documentary History, Volume 2: From Colonialism to Independence, 1875 to the Present* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010).
- 57 My emphasis on consciousness-raising, decolonization, and re-Africanization, as well as *praxis-promoting theory*, has been influenced by Amílcar Cabral and Cabralism, see Amílcar Cabral, *Our People Are Our Mountains: Amílcar Cabral on Guinean Revolution* (London: Committee for Freedom in Mozambique, Angola & Guinea, 1971); Amílcar Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea: Selected Texts* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1972); Amílcar Cabral, *Return to the Source: Selected Speeches of Amílcar Cabral* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1973); Amílcar Cabral, *Unity and Struggle: Speeches and Writings of Amílcar Cabral* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1979); Amílcar Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, trans. and ed. Dan Wood (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2016). See also Reiland Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism: Amílcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2014) and my chapter on Cabral in this volume.
- 58 In *Pan-Africanism*, Esedebe exclaimed, "Pan-African thinking originally began in the so-called New World, becoming articulate during the century starting from the declaration of American independence," which is to say, 1776 onward. See Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*, 8.
- 59 Paul Tiyambe Zeleza, "The Disciplinary, Interdisciplinary and Global Dimensions of African Studies," *International Journal of African Renaissance Studies* 1, no. 2 (2006): 195–220.
- 60 For further discussion of Africana Studies, see Delores P. Aldridge and Carlene Young, eds., *Out of the Revolution: The Development of Africana Studies* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2000); Delores P. Aldridge and E. Lincoln James, eds., *Africana Studies: Philosophical Perspectives and Theoretical Paradigms* (Pullman: Washington State University Press, 2007); Seth N. Asumah and John K. Marah, eds., *Africana Studies: Beyond Race, Class, and Culture* (Dubuque: Kendall Hunt, 2015); Mario J. Azevedo, ed., *Africana Studies: A Survey of Africa and the African Diaspora* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2019); James L. Conyers, ed., *Africana Studies: A Disciplinary Quest for Both Theory and Method* (Jefferson: McFarland, 2005); James L. Conyers, ed., *Qualitative Methods in Africana Studies: An Interdisciplinary Approach to Examining Africana Phenomena* (New York: University Press of America, 2016); Serie McDougal, *Research Methods in Africana Studies* (New York: Peter Lang, 2017); Marc E. Prou, *Introduction to Africana Studies: Multidisciplinary Perspectives on the African Experience* (San Diego: Cognella Academic Publishing, 2013); Rosetta E. Ross and Rose Mary Amenga-Etego, eds., *Unraveling and Reweaving the Sacred Canon in Africana Womanhood* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2015); James E. Turner, ed., *Theoretical and Research Issues in Africana Studies* (New York: Diasporic Africa Press, 2014); Zachery R. Williams, ed., *Africana Cultures and Policy Studies: Scholarship and the Transformation of Public Policy* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2009).
- 61 For further discussion of intersectionality or, rather, intersectionalism, see Sirma Bilge, "Intersectionality Undone: Saving Intersectionality from Feminist Intersectionality Studies," *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race* 10, no. 2 (2013): 405–424; Lisa Bowleg, "When Black+Lesbian+Woman≠ Black Lesbian Woman: The Methodological Challenges of Qualitative and Quantitative Intersectionality Research," *Sex Roles* 59, no. 5–6 (2008): 312–325; Avtar Brah and Ann Phoenix,

- “Ain’t I A Woman?: Revisiting Intersectionality,” *Journal of International Women’s Studies* 5, no. 3 (2004): 75–86; Anna Carastathis, *Intersectionality: Origins, Contestations, Horizons* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 2016); Devon W. Carbado, “Colorblind Intersectionality,” *Signs: Journal of Women in Culture and Society* 38, no. 4 (2013): 811–845; Devon W. Carbado, Kimberlé Williams Crenshaw, Vickie M. Mays, and Barbara Tomlinson, “Intersectionality: Mapping the Movements of a Theory,” *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race* 10, no. 2 (2013): 303–312; Sumi Cho, Kimberlé Williams Crenshaw, and Leslie McCall, “Toward a Field of Intersectionality Studies: Theory, Applications, and Praxis,” *Signs: Journal of Women in Culture and Society* 38, no. 4 (2013): 785–810; Rodney D. Coates, Abby L. Ferber, and David L. Brunsma, *The Matrix of Race: Social Construction, Intersectionality, and Inequality* (Los Angeles: Sage, 2018); Patricia Hill Collins and Sirma Bilge, *Intersectionality* (Cambridge: Polity Press, 2016); Patricia Hill Collins, *Intersectionality as Critical Social Theory* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2019); Kimberlé Crenshaw, “Demarginalizing the Intersection of Race and Sex: A Black Feminist Critique of Anti-Discrimination Doctrine, Feminist Theory, and Anti-Racist Politics,” *University of Chicago Legal Forum* 1, no. 8 (1989): 139–167; Kimberlé Crenshaw, *On Intersectionality: Essential Writings* (New York: New Press, 2019); Rita Kaur Dhamoon, “Considerations on Mainstreaming Intersectionality,” *Political Research Quarterly* 64, no. 1 (2011): 230–243; Emily Grabham, Davina Cooper, Jane Krishnadas, and Didi Herman, eds., *Intersectionality and Beyond: Law, Power, and the Politics of Location* (London: Routledge, 2008); Patrick R. Grzanka, ed., *Intersectionality: A Foundations and Frontiers Reader* (New York: Routledge, 2019); Ange-Marie Hancock, “Intersectionality as a Normative and Empirical Paradigm,” *Politics & Gender* 3, no. 2 (2007): 248–254; Ange-Marie Hancock, *Intersectionality: An Intellectual History* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016); Helma Lutz, Maria Teresa Herrera Vivar, and Linda Supik, eds., *Framing Intersectionality: Debates on a Multi-Faceted Concept in Gender Studies* (London: Routledge, 2016); Nina Lykke, *Feminist Studies: A Guide to Intersectional Theory, Methodology, and Writing* (London: Routledge, 2010); Catharine A. MacKinnon, “Intersectionality as Method: A Note,” *Signs: Journal of Women in Culture and Society* 38, no. 4 (2013): 1019–1030; Vivian M. May, *Pursuing Intersectionality, Unsettling Dominant Imaginaries* (New York: Routledge, 2015); Jennifer C. Nash, “Re-Thinking Intersectionality,” *Feminist Review* 89, no. 1 (2008): 1–15; Jennifer C. Nash, *Black Feminism Reimagined: After Intersectionality* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2019); Mary Romero, *Introducing Intersectionality* (Cambridge: Polity, 2018); Yvette Taylor, Sally Hines, and Mark E. Casey, eds., *Theorizing Intersectionality and Sexuality* (London: Palgrave MacMillan, 2011); Barbara M. Tomlinson, *Undermining Intersectionality: The Perils of Powerblind Feminism* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2019); Sylvia Walby, Jo Armstrong, and Sofia Strid, “Intersectionality: Multiple Inequalities in Social Theory,” *Sociology* 46, no. 2 (2012): 224–240; Riki Wilchins, *Gender Norms and Intersectionality: Connecting Race, Class, and Gender* (London: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2019); Gabriele Winker and Nina Degele, “Intersectionality as Multi-Level Analysis: Dealing with Social Inequality,” *European Journal of Women’s Studies* 18, no. 1 (2011): 51–66; Nira Yuval-Davis, “Intersectionality and Feminist Politics,” *European Journal of Women’s Studies* 13, no. 3 (2006): 193–209.
- 62 For further discussion of the critiques of, and correctives for the “great straight black men” of the Pan-African pantheon paradigm, see Blain, *Set the World on Fire*; Blain and Gill, *To Turn the Whole World Over*; Blain, Leeds and Taylor, “Women, Gender Politics, and Pan-Africanism,” 139–145; Kathryn T. Gines, “Black Feminism and Intersectional Analyses: A Defense of Intersectionality,” *Philosophy Today* 55, no. Issue Supplement (2011): 275–284; Nangwaya, “Pan-Africanism, Feminism, and Finding Missing Pan-Africanist Women;” Mary Johnson Osirim, “African Women in the New Diaspora: Transnationalism and the (Re)Creation of Home,” *African and Asian Studies* 7, no. 4 (2008): 367–394; Mary Johnson Osirim, Josephine Beoku-Betts, and Akosua Adomako Ampofo, “Researching African Women and Gender Studies: New Social Science Perspectives,” *African and Asian Studies* 7, no. 4 (2008): 327–341; Reddock, “Gender Equality, Pan-Africanism, and the Diaspora,” 255–267; Taylor, “Read[ing] Men and Nations,” 72–80; Zerai, “Agents of Knowledge and Action,” 182–222.
- 63 For further discussion of Pan-African forms of feminisms (e.g., black feminism, black feminist internationalism, black feminist transnationalism, African feminism, Africana womanism, etc.), see Nwando Achebe and Claire Robertson, eds., *Holding the World Together: African Women in Changing Perspective* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 2019); Chimamanda Ngozi Adichie, *We Should All Be Feminists* (New York: Anchor Books, 2015); Yetunde Akorede, *Womanism and the Intra-Gender Conflict Theory* (Porto-Novo: ESAF, 2011); Susan Arndt, *The Dynamics of African Feminism*:

- Defining and Classifying African Feminist Literatures* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2001); Margaret Busby, ed., *Daughters of Africa: An International Anthology of Words and Writings by Women of African Descent* (New York: Ballantine Books, 1994); Patricia Hill Collins, *Black Feminist Thought: Knowledge, Consciousness, and the Politics of Empowerment* (New York: Routledge, 2000); Nah Dove, *African Mothers: Bearers of Culture, Makers of Social Change* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1998); Sotunsa Mobolanle Egunoluwa, "Feminism: The Quest for an African Variant," *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 3, no. 1 (2009): 227–234; Jan Etienne, *Learning in Womanist Ways: Narratives of First Generation African Caribbean Women* (London: University College London Press, 2016); Toyin Falola and Olajumoke Jacob-Haliso, eds., *Gendering Knowledge in Africa and the African Diaspora: Contesting History and Power* (London: Routledge, 2017); Higashida, *Black Internationalist Feminism*; MarKeva Gwendolyn Hill, *Womanism Against Socially-Constructed Patriarchal Images: A Theoretical Model Towards a Therapeutic Goal* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012); Clenora Hudson-Weems, *Africana Womanism: Reclaiming Ourselves* (Troy: Bedford Publishers, 2004); Joy James and Tracy Denean Sharpley-Whiting, eds., *The Black Feminist Reader* (Malden: Blackwell, 2000); Toni C. King and S. Alese Ferguson, eds., *Black Womanist Leadership: Tracing the Motherline* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 2011); Mary E. Modupe Kolawole, *Womanism and African Consciousness* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1997); Layli Maparyan, *The Womanist Idea* (New York: Routledge, 2012); Sujarani Mathew, *Womanism: Off the Feminist Track* (Bangalore: Dharmaram Publications, 2007); Gwendolyn Mikell, ed., *African Feminism: The Politics of Survival in Sub-Saharan Africa* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1997); Heidi Safia Mirza, ed., *Black British Feminism: A Reader* (London: Routledge, 1997); Itai Muwati, Zifikile Mguni, Tavengwa Gwekwerere, and Ruby Magosvongwe, eds., *Rediscovering African Womanhood in the Search for Sustainable Renaissance: Africana Womanism in Multidisciplinary Approaches* (Harare: College Press Publishers, 2012); Nash, *Black Feminism Reimagined*; Obioma Nnaemeka, ed., *Sisterhood, Feminisms, and Power in Africa: From Africa to the Diaspora* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1998); Carolette Norwood, "Perspective in Africana Feminism: Exploring Expressions of Black Feminism/Womanism in the African Diaspora," *Sociology Compass* 7, no. 3 (2013): 225–236; Oyèrónké Oyèwùmí, ed., *African Women and Feminism: Reflecting on the Politics of Sisterhood* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2003); Layli Phillips, ed., *The Womanist Reader: The First Quarter Century of Womanist Thought* (New York: Routledge, 2006); Cheryl J. Sanders, *Living the Intersection: Womanism and Afrocentrism in Theology* (Minneapolis: Fortress Press, 1995); Jill Shaver, *Urban Women in Neo-Colonial Africa: Moving Toward Postmodern Africana Womanism Theory* (Saarbrücken: Lambert Academic Publishing, 2010).
- 64 For more detailed discussion of queerphobia, transphobia, heteronormativity, heteropatriarchy, and the rote racial colonization of gender and sexuality in continental and diasporan Africa, see Marc Epprecht, *Sexuality and Social Justice in Africa: Rethinking Homophobia and Forging Resistance* (London: Zed Books, 2013); Horace L. Griffin, *Their Own Receive Them Not: African American Lesbians and Gays in Black Churches* (Eugene: Wipf & Stock, 2010); Angelique C. Harris, "Marginalization by the Marginalized: Race, Homophobia, Heterosexism, and 'the Problem of the Twenty-First Century'," *Journal of Gay & Lesbian Social Services* 21, no. 4 (2009): 430–448; Marjorie J. Hill, "Is the Black Community More Homophobic?: Reflections on the Intersectionality of Race, Class, Gender, Culture and Religiosity of the Perception of Homophobia in the Black Community," *Journal of Gay & Lesbian Mental Health* 17, no. 2 (2013): 208–214; Patrick R. Ireland, "A Macro-Level Analysis of the Scope, Causes, and Consequences of Homophobia in Africa," *African Studies Review* 56, no. 2 (2013): 47–66; Melanie Judge, *Blackwashing Homophobia: Violence and the Politics of Sexuality, Gender, and Race* (London: Routledge, 2017); Thabo Msibi, "The Lies We Have Been Told: On (Homo) Sexuality in Africa," *Africa Today* 58, no. 1 (2011): 55–77; Kenne Mwikya, "Unnatural and Un-African: Contesting Queerphobia by Africa's Political Leadership," *Feminist Africa* 19 (2014): 98–105; Vasu Reddy, "Homophobia, Human Rights, and Gay and Lesbian Equality in Africa," *Agenda* 16, no. 50 (2001): 83–87; Sylvia Tamale, "Confronting the Politics of Non-Conforming Sexualities in Africa," *African Studies Review* 56, no. 2 (2013): 31–45; Ryan Richard Thoreson, "Troubling the Waters of a 'Wave of Homophobia': Political Economies of Anti-Queer Animus in Sub-Saharan Africa," *Sexualities* 17, no. 1–2 (2014): 23–42; Elijah G. Ward, "Homophobia, Hypermasculinity, and the U.S. Black Church," *Culture, Health & Sexuality* 7, no. 5 (2005): 493–504.
- 65 For further discussion of Pan-African queer/LGBTQIA+ theory, as well as Pan-African sexual politics and erotics, especially black queer/LGBTQIA+ and black gender/sexuality non-conforming identities and experiences, see Hakima Abbas and Sokari Ekine, eds., *Queer African Reader* (Nairobi: Pambazuka Press/Fahamu Books, 2013); Jafari S. Allen, ed., "Black/Queer/Diaspora: Special Double Issue," *GLQ: A Journal of Lesbian and Gay Studies* 18, nos. 2–3 (2012): 1–220; Ifi Amadiume, *Male Daughters, Female*

- Husbands: Gender and Sex in an African Society* (London: Zed Books, 2015); Charlene A. Carruthers, *Unapologetic: A Black, Queer, and Feminist Mandate for Radical Movements* (Boston: Beacon Press, 2018); Ashley Currier and Thérèse Migraine-George, "Queer Studies/African Studies: An (Im) Possible Transaction?," *GLQ: A Journal of Lesbian and Gay Studies* 22, no. 2 (2016): 281–305; Roderick A. Ferguson, *Abrations in Black: Toward a Queer of Color Critique* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2003); Jarrod Hayes, *Queer Nations: Marginal Sexualities in the Maghreb* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2000); Sheena C. Howard, *Black Queer Identity Matrix: Towards an Integrated Queer of Color Framework* (New York: Peter Lang, 2014); E. Patrick Johnson, *No Tea, No Shade: New Writings in Black Queer Studies* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2016); E. Patrick Johnson and Mae G. Henderson, eds., *Black Queer Studies: A Critical Anthology* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2007); Patrisse Khan-Cullors and Asha Bandele, *When They Call You a Terrorist: A Black Lives Matter Memoir* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 2018); Keguro Macharia, "Queering African Studies," *Criticism* 51, no. 1 (2009): 157–164; Zethu Matebeni, ed., *Reclaiming Afrikan: Queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities* (Athlone: Modjaj Books, 2014); Zethu Matebeni, Surya Monro, and Vasu Reddy, eds., *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism* (London: Routledge, 2018); Brenna Munro, *South Africa and the Dream of Love to Come: Queer Sexuality and the Struggle for Freedom* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2012); Evan Maina Mwangi, *Africa Writes Back to Self: Metafiction, Gender, Sexuality* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 2009); Evan Maina Mwangi, *Translation in African Contexts: Postcolonial Texts, Queer Sexuality, and Cosmopolitan Fluency* (Kent: Kent State University Press, 2017); Luis Navarro-Ayala, *Queering Transcultural Encounters: Bodies, Image, and Frenchness in Latin America and North Africa* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2019); S.N. Nyeck, *African Queer Dialectics and Politics: Simulation and Simulacra* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2020); S.N. Nyeck, ed., *The Routledge Handbook of Queer African Studies* (London: Routledge, 2020); S.N. Nyeck and Marc Epprecht, eds., *Sexual Diversity in Africa: Politics, Theory, and Citizenship* (Montreal: McGill-Queen's University Press, 2013); Oyèrónkẹ Oyěwùmí, *The Invention of Women: Making an African Sense of Western Gender Discourses* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1997); Matt Richardson, *The Queer Limit of Black Memory: Black Lesbian Literature and Irresolution* (Columbus: Ohio State University Press, 2016); William J. Spurlin, *Contested Borders: Queer Politics and Cultural Translation in Contemporary Francophone Writing from the Maghreb* (London: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2020); William J. Spurlin, *Imperialism within the Margins: Queer Representation and the Politics of Culture in Southern Africa* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2000); Sylvia Tamale, ed., *African Sexualities: A Reader* (Cape Town: Pambazuka Press, 2011); Greg Thomas, *The Sexual Demon of Colonial Power: Pan-African Embodiment and Erotic Schemes of Empire* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2007); Omise'eke Natasha Tinsley, *Ezili's Mirrors: Imagining Black Queer Genders* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2018).
- 66 Kwame Nkrumah, *Consciencism: Philosophy and Ideology for Decolonization* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1970), 78. For further discussion of Nkrumah's conception of "consciencism," see Martin Odei Ajei, ed., *Disentangling Consciencism: Essays on Kwame Nkrumah's Philosophy* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2016); Ama Biney, "The Development of Kwame Nkrumah's Political Thought in Exile, 1966–1972," *Journal of African History* 50, no. 1 (2009): 81–100; Ama Biney, "The Intellectual and Political Legacies of Kwame Nkrumah," *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 4, no. 10 (2012): 127–142; Kwasi N. Boadi, "The Ontology of Kwame Nkrumah's *Consciencism* and Democratic Theory and Practice in Africa," *Journal of Black Studies* 30, no. 4 (2000): 475–501; Kwame Botwe-Asamoah, *Kwame Nkrumah's Politico-Cultural Thought and Politics* (London: Routledge, 2005); Charles Adom Boateng, *Nkrumah's Consciencism: An Ideology for Decolonization and Development* (Dubuque: Kendall/Hunt, 1995); Kofi Kissi Dompere, *Theory of Philosophical Consciencism: Practice Foundations of Nkrumaism in Social Systemicity* (London: Adonis & Abbey, 2017); Ikechukwu Anthony Kanu, "Nkrumah and the Quest for African Unity," *American International Journal of Contemporary Research* 3, no. 6 (2013): 111–114; Dismas A. Masolo, "Kwame Nkrumah: Socialism for Liberation," *Praxis International* 6, no. 2 (1986): 175–189; Chuba Okadigbo, *Consciencism in African Political Philosophy: Nkrumah's Critique* (Enugu: Fourth Dimension Publishers, 1985); Anselm C. Onuorah, *Nkrumah's Consciencism and the Restitution of African Dignity* (Saarbrücken: Lambert Academic Publishing, 2017); Daryl Zizwe Poe, *Kwame Nkrumah's Contribution to Pan-African Agency* (New York: Routledge, 2003).
- 67 Tsitsi Ella Jaji's *Africa in Stereo: Modernism, Music, and Pan-African Solidarity* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014), esp., 1–22, was a key source that helped me conceptualize this section.

Part I

Intellectual origins, historical evolution, and radical politics of Pan-Africanism



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group
<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

The origins and evolution of Pan-Africanism*

Mark Malisa and Thelma Quardey Missedja

Introduction

Our chapter examines the place of Pan-Africanism as an educational, political, and cultural movement that had a lasting impact on the liberation of people of African descent. We also show Pan-Africanism's evolution, beginning with formerly enslaved Africans in the Americas, to the colonial borders of the 1884 Berlin Conference, the rise of the independence movements in Africa from 1957–1975, and the 21st century African Renaissance. Within the studies of origins, we argue that Pan-Africanism should be understood as a quest for Africa's self-understanding and self-knowledge through historical, philosophical, and political narratives.¹

In giving a somewhat chronological development of Pan-Africanism, we acknowledge how writing about origins is also a narration about a people's history and genealogy. Our sources include historical documents, policy statements, and proceedings from conferences. We are aware of the existence of oral history, especially within the African tradition. In oral cultures, griots preserved a people's history through story-telling, or biographical narratives. Schulz observes that it was not uncommon for griots to recast historical narratives so that "the current situation is presented as the outcome of a never specified past."² While griots were at times beholden to the court, ultimately, the best ones owed allegiance to truth and justice, resisting the lure of power and material rewards. At the same time, it is important to point out that narrations of origins told by different people rarely have the same story, as each gives their version.³

It is also important to note that the narration of history, even in oral cultures, was shared by both men and women. Others contend that genealogy or origins should be considered as part of history, and in the making of history, women play an important role, especially within the Pan-African Movement. Readers familiar with *Roots* will likely be aware of the role of griots in recounting a people's history, their origins of how African Americans came to be in the present condition.⁴ Origin and evolution generally ends with an examination of

* A version of this paper was published in *Genealogy* 2, no. 3 (2018)

the present condition based on a remembrance of the past and a future that is yet to be born.

Within the context of this chapter, Pan-Africanism refers to a philosophy (or philosophies) that sought to promote ideas of a united Africa. Over different historical periods, the philosophies evolved, but the focus on the unity or oneness of Africa stayed consistent. Partly because some of the evolution of Pan-Africanism took place in universities, we also examine Pan-Africanism's development as an intellectual movement tied to the aspirations of people of African descent in different parts of the world. In addition to being a philosophical, economic, cultural, and intellectual movement, Pan-Africanism is also a political movement or organization whose goal was the liberation and unity of Africa, especially after slavery and the encounter with modernity.⁵ We also use Black and African interchangeably, for that is how the concept operated within Pan-Africanism.

For formerly enslaved Africans, Pan-Africanism was an idea that helped them see their commonalities as victims of racism.⁶ That is, they realized that they were enslaved because they came from the same continent and shared the same racial heritage. The early articulations and manifestations of Pan-Africanism took place outside Africa, mainly in North America and the Caribbean. Pan-Africanists associated the continent of Africa with freedom. The partitioning of Africa at the Berlin Conference (colonialism) created pseudo-nation states out of what was initially seen as an undivided continent.⁷ Pan-Africanism provided an ideology for rallying Africans at home and abroad against colonialism, and the creation of colonial nation-states did not erase the idea of a united Africa.

As different African nations gained political independence, they took it upon themselves to support those countries fighting for their independence. Many African countries drew inspiration from the nations in the Caribbean, including Cuba. The belief, then, was that as long as one African nation was not free, the continent could not be viewed as free. The existence of nation-states did not imply the negation of Pan-Africanism. The political ideas examined include those of Marcus Garvey, W.E.B. Du Bois, Kwame Nkrumah, Malcolm X, Nelson Mandela, and Thabo Mbeki. Pan-Africanism, as it were, has shaped how many people understand the history of Africa and of African people.

Throughout generations, Pan-Africanism promoted a consciousness of Africa as the ancestral home for Black people, and a desire to work for its liberation. At its core was the understanding that people of African heritage had similar experiences, regardless of their location in the world. Among such experiences included colonialism, racial oppression, and slavery. For a significant part of the 20th century, Addis Ababa was viewed as headquarters of the Organization of African Unity (OAU), indicative of the hope of a united Africa. It should be noted though, that different countries hosted the regular meetings of the OAU. However, even before the first Pan-African Congress in London, Blacks had envisioned the formation of a United States of Africa.⁸

Days of slavery and after

Although the word Pan-Africanism came into popular use in the 1950s, there are some who argue that the philosophy of Pan-Africanism was present and manifested itself not only in the protests and resistance to slavery, but the desire to return to Africa. Formerly enslaved Africans sought to return to Africa, and even when a physical return was impossible, they kept the idea of Africa alive. In many ways, enslavement did not remove a sense of longing or belonging to a wider African community, or even a return to Africa.⁹

In the 18th and 19th centuries, there were many efforts to repatriate formerly enslaved Africans, and some left from the US to Sierra Leone and Liberia. While some returned on a voluntary basis, others did so at the urging of European Americans with the support of the US government. While abolitionists in the United States were keen to end slavery, some were not enamored of having Blacks live among them and encouraged them to relocate to Africa.¹⁰ Consequently, some were shipped from Jamaica and the Caribbean so as to make those countries free and safe for Europeans.

Many of the formerly enslaved Africans returning to Africa saw their mission as that of advancing Africa through means similar to what was happening in North America and Europe. The new things they sought included new forms of commerce and new religions, including Christianity.¹¹ For Crummel, it was a fusion of capitalism and Christianity, or Anglophilia that could lead to a transformation of Africa.¹²

The return to Africa, or the promise and premise of Pan-Africanism was predicated on a vision of a triumphant or victorious Africa, one free of slavery and foreign domination. But the appearances of the abolition of slavery did not lead to a significant emancipation of Africans in the Diaspora or in Africa itself. The abolition of slavery was followed by the “dismemberment of Africa at the 1885 Berlin Conference, a process much like the butchering of a huge elephant for sharing among jubilant hunter kin.”¹³ The Berlin Conference and the subsequent partitioning of Africa laid the foundation for the colonization of Africa. To a great extent, at the Berlin Conference “European society found the principle of resource theft perfectly acceptable, indeed, inevitable ... formalized this acceptance of brutality as good governance for Africa.”¹⁴ Africa and Africans belonged to Europeans, and Germany played a central role in the partitioning of Africa.

The Berlin conference

The partitioning of Africa at the Berlin Conference not only led to the theft of resources, but to the creation of borders where previously there had been none, and the making of pseudo-states administered by Europeans using European legal systems. According to Ngugi Wa Thiongo, the “Berlin Conference of 1884 literally fragmented and reconstituted Africa into British, French, Portuguese, German, Belgian, and Spanish Africa.”¹⁵ Political, cultural, and economic independence were lost in the process of colonialism. But, instead of a vacuum, Europe used the colonial experience to impose its cultural memory in ways that would radically alter the course of African history and identity, as well as the potential unification of Africa. With the partitioning of Africa, what had been previously one whole, suddenly became a landmass of several nation states and colonially imposed geographical boundaries.

As a result of the Berlin Conference, Germany had German West Africa (Namibia) and German East Africa (Tanzania, Rwanda, and Burundi) as well as Togo and Cameroon. France, on the other hand, took possession of over ten territories, including the Ivory Coast, Senegal, Niger, Gambia, Morocco, Gabon, Algeria, and Tunisia. To Britain went Ghana, Nigeria, Kenya, Uganda, South Africa, Egypt, Northern Rhodesia (Zambia), Botswana, Lesotho, and Southern Rhodesia (Zimbabwe) among others. Even Portugal colonized Angola, Mozambique, Cape Verde, and Guinea-Bissau.¹⁶ All in all, delegates from fourteen (14) European countries convened and decided the fate of Africa and its people.

In addition to dividing Africa among themselves, European nations also divided Africans from each other. This division was mostly evident with the making of colonial borders. But the colonial borders also quickly became religious and cultural borders, as colonialism was

quickly followed by the imposition of different religious traditions, including variations of Christianity. A byproduct of the division of Africa was the creation in the European imaginary, culture, and scholarship of Egypt and parts of North Africa as separate from the rest of Africa, especially what is now called Africa South of the Sahara. European cartography defined Africa's geographical and political identity. The Berlin Conference, in many ways, created pseudo-nation states beholden to colonial powers. The conference formed the foundation for the continued destruction of African history, culture, and unity.¹⁷

However, from Europe and North America as well as the Caribbean, people of African descent strove for maintaining the unity of Africa. Among the many platforms through which this was done included the Pan-African Congresses.

Pan-African Congresses

Notwithstanding the concerted effort by Europeans at disuniting Africa as a result of the Berlin Conference, leading activists and intellectuals in the Diaspora sought ways for advocating for the unity of Africa and people of African descent. Those in the Diaspora organized conferences and congresses to deliberate on the present and future of Africa. Pan-Africanism can be understood as a practical and philosophical approach to a unity of people of African heritage, especially those in North America, the Caribbean, Europe, and Africa. The Pan-African Congresses, especially those during the time of Du Bois and Padmore, became places for defining the goals and vision for Africa.¹⁸

The First Pan-African Congress was held in London in 1900. It was organized by Williams of Trinidad and explored, among other topics, the independence of Africa, and the rights of Black people in the Diaspora. In many ways, Pan-Africanism made it possible to view the future of Africa through a different lens. A generational and ideological shift was apparent, especially when compared with those of the days immediately after slavery.¹⁹ Christianity was no longer viewed as essential to the ideological and material revival of Africa.

The Second Pan-African Congress took place in 1919 and was again overwhelmingly dominated by Blacks from the Diaspora. As with the First Congress, it also took place in Europe, and among those present included W.E.B. Du Bois. Du Bois played a leading role in many of the Pan-African Congresses. What eventually came into play was the question of who was to lead Africa out of European domination, and in what political and ideological direction.

During this era, Marcus Garvey and W.E.B. Du Bois played a leading role in shaping the direction or path toward the future of Africa. For Garvey, it was important for Africans to think in terms of race first, and in this case, the Black race. Du Bois had already written and published on the contributions of Black people in world history in ways that challenged European perceptions and depictions of Africa. The fissures in European ideologies and capitalism had made it possible for Blacks in the Diaspora to study Marxism and Socialism. The rise of the Soviet Union, and the acceptance of Blacks in the Communist International persuaded Pan-Africanists to explore Socialism as central to the unification and future of Africa.²⁰

However, within a relatively short time, some Pan-Africanists began to realize the shortcomings of Socialism and broke with the Communist International. At the early stages of his career, the younger Padmore, for example, viewed socialism and the potential solidarity between workers of the world as something that could solve the race problem. In other words, for a while he saw the problem as one of economics, while Du Bois, Marcus Garvey,

and others viewed race as central. By 1933, however Padmore began to see the limitations of Communism within the struggle for African freedom.²¹ He had a huge influence on other Pan-Africanists, including Kwame Nkrumah.

Most students of Pan-Africanism would rarely question the dedication that those in the Diaspora had for the cause of Africa. Partly because of the proximity to Europeans as well as their experiences with European and North American education, those assembled at the First and Second Pan-African Congresses envisaged themselves playing a leadership role in Africa. Even younger DuBois saw the educated Blacks as essential to a mission of civilizing Africa. For a significant amount of time, the early Pan-Africanists saw the liberation of Africa through an Anglo-American worldview partly because they had been educated in that environment. It could be argued that “they sought to remake Africa and Africans, at home and abroad, in the image of the emerging bourgeois North Atlantic societies.”²² However, over time, many of the Pan-Africanists found a home in Africa and ended up advising the presidents of newly independent African countries.

By the time of the Fifth Pan-African Congress (held in 1945), the hope that the Anglo-American model could provide a transformative and emancipatory framework for Africa was being slowly abandoned. While previous congresses had advocated for a gradual emancipation for Africans, the Fifth Pan-African Congress stressed the necessity of ending colonialism.²³ The ideological and political rationale for gaining political independence had been laid, and representatives from African countries began actively participating in congresses.

Women and Pan-Africanism

The vast amount of literature on Pan-Africanism gives the impression that it was a male-dominated initiative, with women being invisible, or playing marginal roles. However, a closer reading of the events and activities associated with the Pan-African Movement shows that women played a pivotal role in its history as well as the ideological directions it followed. Roy-Campbell observes that for the most part, the first Five Congresses could be described as male-centered. The women whose presence was acknowledged include Shirley Du Bois, Amy Garvey, Mary McLeod Bethune, and Annie Cooper.²⁴

In reading Pan-Africanism through a western patriarchal eye, it is possible to not see the presence of women or the leadership roles they played in Pan-Africanism. However, the 1927 Pan-African Congress held in New York witnessed a significant presence of Black women, other than just those who were wives of the leading men. The Sixth and Seventh Pan-African Congresses devoted a significant amount of their proceedings to addressing the concerns of Black women.

It would be a mistake to view the issues facing African women as radically distinct from those that confronted African men, whether in the global north or the global south. Women in the Diaspora as well as those in the motherland were cognizant of these issues. In protesting the assassination of Lumumba, women from different countries, including the United States, saw in the assassination a reminder of the lynching of African men. As Morrison observed, from a woman's point of view, in terms of confronting the problems where the world is now, black women had to deal with post-modern problems ... certain kinds of dissolution, the loss of and the need to reconstruct certain kinds of stability.²⁵

This quote from Morrison illustrates the ways African women were involved in the fight for a qualitatively better world, not just within a specific geographical location. In the period after 1945, and especially during the Civil Rights Movement in the United States, a unique

consciousness manifested itself in the lives and work of Black women: it was “a time of giving birth and of getting born into a wider concept of ourselves ... and into a heightened sense of art and the Struggle as inseparable bedmates.”²⁶

Among the issues addressed at the Sixth and Seventh Pan-African Congresses included the survival of Black or African women and children, women and the environment, and women and the law. Cognizant of the prevalence of war and conflict, there were initiatives to strengthen a Pan-African Women’s Liberation Movement. Women not only played active roles in the Congresses, but their lifestyles showed commitment to Pan-Africanism, and often times they relocated (even if temporarily) to Africa.²⁷ Black women were involved in trying to change conditions in Africa.

Maya Angelou is among the women who moved to Africa (Ghana) partly as a result of her commitment to Pan-Africanism, and partly because at that time she was married to an anti-apartheid activist. For Angelou, Africa and African culture were central to the liberation of Black people worldwide. Black people had to feel a sense of belonging to, of identifying with Africa. Women, to a great extent, became the mothers of the revolution, of the struggle for the liberation of Africa and its people. The conditions of Black people in one part of the world could not be seen as different from other parts of the world, for there was a kinship by virtue of racial experiences.²⁸ In many ways, Africa gave Blacks from the diaspora a sense of home, of belonging, of family. However, being at home in Africa did not erase the memories of slavery and racism in the United States.

For women, the return to Africa was not without challenges. Reflecting on her experiences in Ghana, Angelou observed “I doubted if I or any black from the diaspora, could really return to Africa. We wore skeletons of old despair like necklaces, heralding our arrival, and we were branded with cynicism.”²⁹ The point here is that arrival in Africa did not mean an end to the everyday challenges, but it helped with the awareness of the global significance of Pan-Africanism. When Malcolm X met with Maya Angelou in Ghana, he was able to persuade her to return to the United States to continue to work for the liberation of Black people. Her experiences in Ghana gave her a taste of living in a place where racism was not the norm, where Blacks were not subjected to violence. Independent Africa, as it were, offered hope for the rebirth of humanity, or the rebirth and healing of those who had been subjected to violence and racism, especially in the global north.³⁰

Universities, education, and Pan-Africanism

Universities, in and outside Africa, played a leading role in the development of Pan-Africanism, especially in the 20th century. After the abolition of slavery in the Americas, some universities began admitting Black students as well as students from Africa. However, it was not until the passage of the Civil Rights Act in 1964 that universities in the United States reluctantly admitted Black students. In some cases, the admission of Black students led to riots and protests and prevailed only at the intervention of the federal government.³¹

Granted the limited places for Black students in predominantly White universities, there emerged a number of Historically Black Colleges and Universities, (HBCU) and it was in these universities that Blacks from different parts of the world (Africa, North America, and the Caribbean) met and exchanged ideas. Parker argues that universities in the United States played an important role in the struggle against colonialism in Africa.³² Among such universities were Howard and Lincoln.

It was at Lincoln University that Nkrumah would encounter other Africans from colonized nations. It was also while at Lincoln that he gained a better and deeper

understanding of the conditions facing African Americans, or Blacks in the United States. Likewise, it was at Lincoln that Azikwe got introduced to Pan-Africanism, especially after meeting Padmore. While the students might have come from different colonies in Africa, a contemporary visitor to Tuskegee noted that “now these men have an African consciousness; their loyalty is not Liberian or Rhodesian or Gold-Coastan, but African.”³³ Universities were an ideal ground for nurturing Pan-Africanism. Although universities generally propagated a Eurocentric worldview, there was a growing awareness of the ways institutions of learning had participated in the deliberate falsification of knowledge about Africa and Africans.

Even with the challenges posed by a strong Western education, a significant number of those educated in Europe and North America returned to lead their nations as heads of state or in other government occupations. Under the leadership of Nkrumah, Ghana made itself available for the liberation of all African countries.

The Organization of African Union (OAU) and African Union (AU)

The creation of the Organization of African Union was a defining moment for newly independent African countries, particularly regarding the freedom of people of African descent, not only in Africa, but across the world. Established in 1963, the union also provided a model for solidarity in other nations, and in 1964, Malcolm X formed the Organization of Afro-American Unity (OAAU). For Malcolm X, the liberation of Africans in Africa was incomplete if African Americans continued suffering from racial oppression.³⁴

To a great extent, the establishment of the Organization of African Union (OAU) symbolized the movement towards the healing of Africa, an affirmation of the oneness of the continent, especially in light of the divisions brought by the Berlin Conference. The creation of the OAU, in a way, shifted the discourse about Pan-Africanism in Africa. During its existence (1963–2002), the OAU focused primarily on Africa, that is, on issues facing those on the continent.³⁵ This stance is reflected in the OAU Charter as well as in the practices and policies adopted by the organization. In its 39 years of existence, there were several summits (meetings) dedicated to charting the path and work of the organization.

At the beginning of the 21st century, the OAU became the African Union (AU). The mission of the AU was closely aligned with the declarations from the 1999 Sirte Summit. In addition to addressing the challenges and opportunities posed by globalization, the AU called for the establishment of a Pan-African Parliament, the African Court of Justice, and the African Central Bank together with the African Monetary Union. The focus on Africa was not lost. However, what was unique with the AU is the way it embraced those in the diaspora as part of Africa. The AU defined its mission within the context of Pan-Africanism, seeing in it a need for uniting all people of African descent, in and outside Africa (Echo, 2013). By 2003, the AU had adopted the Diaspora as the sixth region. By so doing, it acknowledged the important role played by those outside Africa. From the 150 seats for member states, 20 were reserved for the African Diaspora.³⁶ By allocating seats to the Diaspora, the AU was giving tacit approval to the role played by those in the diaspora regarding Africa’s development. The Diaspora, in the end, was viewed as having a positive role to play in Africa’s development. Those living outside the continent were ideally positioned to be bridge-builders with the international community and development agencies.

Towards an African renaissance: not yet Uhuru

At the beginning of the 21st century, there was some optimism about the present and future of Africa, especially in the idea of the African Renaissance as articulated by former South African President, Thabo Mbeki. The abolition of apartheid and the insertion of the philosophy of Ubuntu in African and global discourse gave the impression that the revolution had been accomplished and Africa was free at last. As a philosophy, Ubuntu placed importance on the humanity of Africans, a humanity that had been rejected by modernity.³⁷ The rebirth of Africa was about to begin, and for a while, the fading embers of Pan-Africanism were rekindled.

Although Ubuntu is largely associated with the work of Bishop Desmond Tutu and Nelson Mandela regarding the Truth and Reconciliation Process in post-apartheid South Africa, it was also viewed as offering Africa opportunities for a continent free of conflict and civil strife. But, in addition to cultural and political reconciliation, there is an economic dimension and economic justice in the philosophy and practice of Ubuntu. The hope, then, was that with the ascension to power by the African National Congress, there would be a redistribution of wealth and resources, a movement toward eradicating poverty. Instead, it quickly became apparent that those who became rulers “easily conceive of power in personal, not social terms; that they are happy to be individually rich in a poor society.”³⁸ Even the much-anticipated abolition of apartheid or the creation of the “Rainbow Nation” had not made conditions better for Black South African. The continued existence of economic apartheid showed the extent to which the Rainbow Nation is built on the invisibility of Blacks and Blackness, or their marginalization the failures of interracial harmony without economic justice and resource redistribution.

The idea of an African Renaissance was borne of the realization that even with political independence, Africa continued to be exploited by Europe and North America. In other words, the legacy of the Berlin Conference could still be felt across Africa. The colonizing countries had left Africa, but in such a way that Africa had to export its raw materials while being marginalized. Although tethered to the global market and economy, Africa was seen as marginal.³⁹ This view perpetuated in spite of the fact that Africa’s mineral resources were fueling the industrial development of Europe and North America, among other countries.

The African Renaissance also came from the realization that political freedom in Africa had not brought about economic independence, and this was evident in the international debt burden carried by Africa. The International Monetary Fund and the World Bank dictated the value of different currencies in Africa in ways that favored the Global North. At surface reading, logic would lead one to conclude that through hard work and industrialization, Africa and Africans will be free. However, working under neocolonial conditions will not likely lead to a radical transformation of Africa. In his diagnosis of such work, Armah observes: “the African miner’s work is to assist the invading Western pirate in the violation of his motherland. This makes the African miner at best a zombie, at worst a culpable accomplice.”⁴⁰

What is unique about the African Renaissance as articulated in the work of Thabo Mbeki is the way it emphasizes the importance of grounding everyday practices (including science) in African realities and philosophies. It acknowledges the inability of modernity to work for the good of all Africans, as evidenced by Africa’s continued subjugation. Neither Capitalism nor Marxism, or their derivatives had brought freedom or unity to Africa. To a great extent, the invitation to participate in the African Renaissance is also a call for Africa’s regeneration through its languages and philosophies.⁴¹

It is possible to argue that the African Renaissance comes from the realization that the dreams and promises of Pan-Africanism have not yet been fulfilled, that the logic and model of capitalist development has faltered. The relationship among Africans, globally, is no longer what it was envisioned to be. In the 21st century, there is a significant number of educated African immigrants in the United States and Europe, and sometimes statistics indicate that African immigrants rank among the most educated in the United States. However, “in the context of the new African migrations, particularly to the United States, there is no evidence whatsoever of a Pan-African movement ideology or even sensibility attempting to unite them.”⁴² The abundance of information in the age of globalization and the opportunities to network have not led to meaningful solidarity.

Conclusion

In this chapter we have presented Pan-Africanism as a philosophy or a way of life for Africans, as defined mainly by people of African descent worldwide.⁴³ In many ways, it provided a structure that enabled Africans to organize their world and to work toward a world in which their humanity would be affirmed.

Within the narrative or language or discourse of origins, Pan-Africanism must be understood as a search for knowledge and truth about Africa, about what Africa is, and a future that can be created. Emerging as it did in the aftermath of slavery and colonialism, it drew attention to the ways in which the encounter with modernity led to the total colonization of Africans, including in the spheres of culture, economics, religion, and politics. Even though it rose as a response to modernity, Pan-Africanism was and is a call for the preservation of people of African descent and a reunification of Africa.⁴⁴

That a history of Pan-Africanism begins with the encounter with modernity should not be taken to imply that African history and identity did not exist prior to slavery and colonialism. Instead, the encounter with slavery and colonialism destroyed and led to the disintegration of Africa.⁴⁵ While early Pan-Africanists initially thought the future of Africa lay in embracing capitalism, in Christianity, or even Marxism, at the birth of the 21st century, particularly with the call for an African Renaissance, there was an implicit and explicit acknowledgement that the tools and structures of modernity had not been able to radically alter the conditions of Africans for the better.

Notes

- 1 See Ayttey, 2010; West, 2005; Clarke, 2012; Fergus, 2010, Armah, 2010.
- 2 See Schulz, 1997, p. 446
- 3 See Armah, 2000; Hale, 1994; Haley, 2002; Tunca & Ledent, 2015
- 4 See Hale, 1994; Fall, 2003; Armah, 2000; Williams, 1992
- 5 See Armah, 1973, 2000, 2008; Ahlman, 2010.
- 6 See Fergus, 2010
- 7 Armah, 2010; Wa Thiongo, 2009
- 8 See Padmore, 1956; Malcolm X, 1992; Gebrekidan, 2012
- 9 See, Lake, 1995; Tsomondo, 1975; Padmore, 1956, Armah, 2010
- 10 See Blyden, 1976; Lake, 1995; Liebenow, 1973; Walker, 1976
- 11 West, 2005
- 12 See West, 2005; Crummell, 1996,
- 13 See Armah, 2010, p. 15.
- 14 Armah, 2010, p. 15
- 15 Wa Thiongo, 2009, p. 3.

- 16 See Chamberlain, 1999
- 17 See Armah, 2010; Wa Thiongo, 2009; Armah, 2012; Bentahar, 2011; Emerson, 1962
- 18 See Mboukou, 1983; Lake, 1995; Geiss, 1967
- 19 See Lake, 1995; West, 2005.
- 20 See Padmore, 1956; Solomon, 1998; Martin, 1986
- 21 See Murapa, 1972.
- 22 See West, 2005, p. 88
- 23 See Padmore, 1956; Adi & Sherwood, 1995
- 24 See Roy-Campbell, 1996
- 25 See Morrison, as cited in Gilroy, 1993, p. 178
- 26 See Davis & Dee, 1998, p. 202.
- 27 See Roy-Campbell, 1996.
- 28 See Angelou, 2009, 1986; Smithers, 2011
- 29 See Angelou, 1986, p. 84.
- 30 See Nehl, 2016; Smith, 2008.
- 31 See Hendrickson, 2003; Doyle, 2001; Meredith, 1966.
- 32 See Parker, 2009; Ahlman, 2010.
- 33 See Parker, 2009, p. 730; See also Franklin, 2011; Asante, 2010; Fenderson, 2010; Wilson, 1993; Shockey & Frederick, 2010; Asante, 1999; Andrews, 2014
- 34 See Ahlman, 2011.
- 35 See Edo & Michael, 2012; Masinde & Omolo, 2017.
- 36 See Bolaji, 2015; Edo & Michael, 2012.
- 37 See Ajulu, 2001; Mulemfo, 2000; Mbeki, 1999.
- 38 See Armah, 2010, p. 26; see also Tutu, 1999.
- 39 See Rodney, 1972.
- 40 See Armah, 2010, p. 116.
- 41 See Wa Thiongo, 2009; Armah, 2010.
- 42 See Chude-Sokei, 2014, p. 58; See also McCabe, 2011; Moore, 2013.
- 43 See Clarke, 2012
- 44 See Young, 2010; Mbeki, 1999; Nantambu, 1998; Mulemfo, 2000; Nkrumah, 1963; Njemanze & Pan-Africanism, 2011
- 45 See Armah, 2010

References

- Adi, H. & Sherwood, M. *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787*. London: Routledge, 1995.
- Ahlman, J.S. The Algerian Question in Nkrumah's Ghana, 1958–1960: Debating “Violence” and “Non-violence” in African Decolonization. *Africa Today* 57, no. 2 (2010): 66–84.
- Ahlman, J.S. Road to Ghana: Nkrumah, Southern Africa and the Eclipse of a Decolonizing Africa. *Kronos* 37 (2011): 23–40.
- Ajulu, R. Thabo Mbeki's African Renaissance in a Globalising World Economy: The Struggle for the Soul of the Continent. *Review of African Political Economy* 28, no. 87 (2001): 27–42.
- Andrews, K. Toward a Black Radical Independent Education: Black Radicalism, Independence and the Supplementary School Movement. *The Journal of Negro Education* 83, no. 1 (2014): 5–14.
- Angelou, M. *All God's Children Need Traveling Shoes*. New York: Random House, 1986.
- Angelou, M. *The Heart of a Woman*. New York: Random House, 2009.
- Armah, A. *Why are We so Blest?* New York: Anchor Press, 1973.
- Armah, A. *Two Thousand Seasons*. Popenguine: Per Ankh, 2000.
- Armah, A. *Osiris Rising: A Novel of Africa Past, Present, and Future*. Popenguine: Per Ankh, 2008.
- Armah, A. *Remembering the Dismembered Continent: Essays*. Popenguine: Per Ankh, 2010.
- Asante, M. *The Painful Demise of Eurocentrism: An Afrocentric Response to Critics*. Trenton, NJ and Asmara, Eritrea: Africa World Press, 1999.
- Asante, M. Afrocentricity and the Argument for Civic Commitment: Ideology and Citizenship in a United States of Africa. *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 632, (2010): 121–131.

- Ayttey, G. The United States of Africa: A Revisit. *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 632, (2010): 86–102.
- Bentahar, Z. Continental Drift: The Disjunction of North and Sub-Saharan Africa. *Research in African Literatures* 42, no. 1 (2011): 1–13.
- Bolaji, M.H. The African Union's Call for Global Pan Africanism and the Ghana-Diaspora Relations in the 21st Century. *The Journal of Black Studies* 46, no. 1, (January 2015): 62–101.
- Chamberlain, M. *The Scramble for Africa*. London: Longman, 1999.
- Chude-Sokei, L. The Newly Black Americans. *Transition* 113 (2014): 52–71.
- Clarke, S. Understanding Pan-Africanism. *Caribbean Quarterly* 58, no. 1 (2012): 99–111.
- Crummell, A. The Progress of Civilization along the West Coast of Africa. In W. J. Moses ed., *Classical Black Nationalism: From the American Revolution to Marcus Garvey* (pp. 169–187). New York: New York University Press, 1996.
- Davis, O. & Dee, R. *With Ossie and Ruby*. New York: William and Morrow, 1998.
- Doyle, W. *An American Insurrection: The Battle of Oxford, Mississippi, 1962*. New York: Doubleday, 2001.
- Du Bois, W.E.B. *The Souls of Black Folk*. New York: Knopf, 1986.
- Du Bois, W.E.B. *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept*. New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction, 1995.
- Du Bois, W.E.B. *The Gift of Black Folk: The Negroes in the Making of America*. Millwood, NY: Kraus-Thomson Organization, 1992.
- Dunayevskaya, R. *Marx's Philosophy of Revolution*. Atlantic Highlands: Humanities Press, 1982.
- Edo, V.O. & Michael, A.O. An Assessment of the Transformation of the Organization of African Unity (O.A.U) To the African Union (A.U) 1963–2007. *Journal of the Historical Society of Nigeria* 21, (2012): 41–69.
- Emerson, R. Pan-Africanism. *International Organization* 16, no. 2 (1962): 275–290.
- Fall, B. Orality and Life Histories: Rethinking the Social and Political History of Senegal. *Africa Today* 50, no. 2 (2003): 55–65.
- Fenderson, J. Evolving Conceptions of Pan-African Scholarship: W.E.B. Du Bois, Carter G. Woodson, and the Encyclopedia Africana, 1909–1963. *The Journal of African American History* 95, no. 1 (2010): 71–91.
- Fergus, C. From Prophecy to Policy: Marcus Garvey and the Evolution of Pan-African Citizenship. *The Global South* 4, no. 2 (2010): 29–48.
- Franklin, V. Pan-African Connections, Transnational Education, Collective Cultural Capital, and Opportunities Industrialization Centers International. *The Journal of African American History* 96, no. 1 (2011): 44–61.
- Gebrekidan, F. From Adwa to OAU: Ethiopia and the Politics of Pan-Africanism, 1896–1963. *International Journal of Ethiopian Studies* 6, no. 1/2 (2012): 71–86.
- Geiss, I. Notes on the Development of Pan Africanism. *Journal of the Historical Society of Nigeria* 3, no. 4 (1967): 719–740.
- Gibrill, H. Methodological Matters in the Study of Africa: An Appreciation of W.E.B. Du Bois' Africanist Scholarship. *Phylon* 51, no. 1 (2014): 158–177.
- Hale, C.A. The Transformation of Liberalism in ... and Repression: The Denial of African Heritage in Costa Rica. *Canadian Journal of History* 2 (1994): 95–112.
- Hale, T. Griottes: Female Voices from West Africa. *Research in African Literatures* 25, no. 3 (1994): 71–91.
- Haley, A. *Roots: The Saga of an American Family*. Boston: Da Capo Press, 2002.
- Hendrickson, P. *Sons of Mississippi*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2003.
- Issacs, H. DuBois and Africa. *Race* 2 (November, 1960): 137–152.
- Lake, O. Toward a Pan-African Identity: Diaspora African Repatriates in Ghana. *Anthropological Quarterly* 68, no. 1 (1995): 21–36.
- Liebenow, J.G. *Liberia: The Evolution of Privilege*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1973.
- Malcolm, A. *By Any Means Necessary*. New York: Pathfinder, 1992.
- Malcolm, X. *The Last Speeches*. New York: Pathfinder, 1989.
- Malcolm, X. *The Autobiography of Malcolm X as Told to Alex Haley*. New York: Penguin, 1999.
- Mandela, N. *Long Walk to Freedom: The Autobiography of Nelson Mandela*. Boston: Back Bay, 1994/1995.
- Mandela, N. *Nelson Mandela in His Own Words*. Boston: Little, Brown and Company, 2003.
- Martin, T. *Caribbean History: From Pre-colonial Origins to the Present*. Boston and New York: Pearson Publications, 2011.

- Martin, T. *Race First: The Ideological and Organizational Struggles of Marcus Garvey and the Universal Negro Improvement Association*. Dover, MA: The Majority Press, 1986.
- Masinde, W. & Omolo, C.O. "The Road to East African Integration." In U. Emmanuel, R. J. Eudes, O. Tom, & C. Armin, eds., *East African Community Law: Institutional, Substantive and Comparative EU Aspects* (pp. 1–21). Leiden and Boston: Brill, 2017.
- Mbeki, T. *African Renaissance: The New Struggle*. Johannesburg and New York: Tafelberg Publishers, 1999.
- Mboukou, A. The Pan African Movement, 1900–1945: A Study in Leadership Conflicts among the Disciples of Pan Africanism. *Journal of Black Studies* 13, no. 3 (1983): 275–288.
- Mbuguni, A. Malcolm X, the OAU Resolution of 1964, and Tanzania: Pan-African Connections in the Struggle against Racial Discrimination. *The Journal of Pan African Studies* 7, no. 3 (2014): 177–194.
- McCabe, K. *African Immigrants in the United States*. Washington, DC: Migration Policy Institute, 2011.
- Meredith, J. *Three Years in Mississippi*. Bloomington, IN: Indiana University Press, 1966.
- Monteiro, A. Being an African in the World: The Du Boisian Epistemology. *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568, (2000): 220–234.
- Moore, A. *The American Dream through the Eyes of Black African Immigrants in Texas*. New York: University of America Press, 2013.
- Mulemfo, M. *Thabo Mbeki and the African Renaissance: The Emergence of New African Leadership*. London and New York: Actua Press, 2000.
- Murapa, R. "The Zimbabwe Crisis: An Analysis of the Anglo-Rhodesia Settlement Proposals." *Issue: A Journal of Opinion* 2, no. 1 (1972): 13–17.
- Nantambu, K. Pan-Africanism versus Pan-African Nationalism: An Afrocentric Analysis. *Journal of Black Studies* 28, no. 5 (1998): 561–574.
- Nehl, M. Rethinking the African Diaspora: Saidiya Hartman's *Lose Your Mother* (2007). In *Transnational Black Dialogues: Re-Imagining Slavery in the Twenty-First Century* (pp. 79–108). Bielefeld: Transcript Verlag, 2016.
- Njemanze, P. & Njemanze, P. Pan-Africanism: Africa in the Minds and Deeds of Her Children in the Caribbean. *Journal of the Historical Society of Nigeria* 20 (2011): 152–165.
- Nkrumah, K. *Africa Must Unite*. New York: Praeger, 1963.
- Padmore, G. *Pan-Africanism or Communism? the Coming Struggle for Africa*. New York: Doubleday, 1956.
- Parker, J.C. Made-in-America Revolutions? the 'Black University' and the American Role in the Decolonization of the Black Atlantic. *The Journal of American History* 96, no. 3 (2009): 727–750.
- Rodney, W. *How Europe Underdeveloped Africa*. London: Bogle-Louvverture Publications, 1972.
- Roy-Campbell, Z. Pan-African Women Organising for the Future: The Formation of the Pan African Women's Liberation Organisation and Beyond. *African Journal of Political Science/Revue Africaine De Science Politique* 1, no. 1 (1996): 45–57.
- Schulz, D. Praise without Enchantment: Griots, Broadcast Media, and the Politics of Tradition in Mali. *Africa Today* 44, no. 4 (1997): 443–464.
- Shariati, A. *On the Sociology of Islam: Lectures by Ali Shariati*. Berkeley, CA: Mizan Press, 1979.
- Shockley, K. & Frederick, R. Constructs and Dimensions of Afrocentric Education. *Journal of Black Studies* 40, no. 6 (2010): 1212–1233.
- Smallwood, A. The Intellectual Creativity and Public Discourse of Malcolm X: A Precursor to the Modern Black Studies Movement. *Journal of Black Studies* 36, no. 2, (November, 2005): 248–263.
- Smith, C. Women's Spiritual Geographies of the African Diaspora: Paule Marshall's "Praise Song for the Widow." *African American Review* 42, no. 3/4 (2008): 715–729.
- Smithers, G. Challenging a Pan-African Identity: The Autobiographical Writings of Maya Angelou, Barack Obama, and Caryl Phillips. *Journal of American Studies* 45, no. 3 (2011): 483–502.
- Solomon, M. *The Cry Was Unity: Communists and African Americans, 1917–1936*. Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 1998.
- Tsomondo, M. From Pan-Africanism to Socialism: The Modernization of an African Liberation Ideology. *Issue: A Journal of Opinion* 5, no. 4 (1975): 39–46.
- Tunca, D. & Ledent, B. The Power of a Singular Story: Narrating Africa and Its Diasporas. *Research in African Literatures* 46, no. 4 (2015): 1–9.
- Tutu, D. *No Future Without Forgiveness*. New York: Penguin Books, 1999.
- Walker, C. *Deromanticizing Black History: Critical Essays and Re-appraisals*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1991.
- Walker, J. *The Black Loyalists*. New York: Holmes and Meier Publishers, 1976.

- Wa Thiongo, N. *Something torn and New: An African Renaissance*. New York: Basic Books, 2009.
- West, M. Global Africa: The Emergence and Evolution of an Idea. *Review (Fernand Braudel Center)* 28, no. 4 (2005): 85–108.
- Williams, C. *The Destruction of Black Civilizations: Great Issues of Race from 4500 B.C. To 2000 A.D.* New York: Third World Press, 1992.
- Wilson, A. *The Falsification of Afrikan Consciousness: Eurocentric History, Psychiatry, and the Politics of White Supremacy*. New York: Afrikan World InfoSystems, 1999.
- Young, K. Africa Must Unite Revisited: Continuity and Change in the Case for Continental Unification. *Africa Today* 57, no. 1 (2010): 42–63.

The politics of Pan-Africanism

William Ackah

The Politics of Pan-Africanism is an unfinished politics. The formal political arrangements that emerged from the political strivings of African descendants in the 20th century such as the Pan-African Congresses, the establishment of the Organisation of African Unity in 1963 and the African Union in 2002 are stepping stones on a road still to be completed.¹ In this chapter I will utilise themes emanating from Pan-African thought and practice to argue for a renewed Pan-African politics. One that is people centred and focused on empowering African descendants wherever they reside and roam. A Pan-Africanism that refocuses the link between African descendants at home and those abroad.

It was in 1900 under the direction of the Trinidadian lawyer Henry Sylvester Williams that a small group of African descendants met in London to usher in the formal beginnings of Pan-African politics.² Their focus was to construct a political project that would seek to bring dignity, self-determination, and liberation for millions of their brothers and sisters around the world. This meeting is remembered as the first Pan-African Congress. Subsequent Pan-African Congresses were held throughout the 20th century, including most notably the 5th Pan-African Congress held in Manchester in 1945 which laid the ground for African independence.³

These meetings were and are part of an ongoing 500 year struggle of African descendants to break the shackles of Europe, its diaspora,⁴ and its continued oppression of African people. Even with the formal end of oppressive white supremacist systems of control such as apartheid, colonialism, and trans-atlantic enslavement, African descendants are not truly free. African governmental and institutional arrangements are still beholden to the West and more recently to China. To break the cycle of exploitation and dependence requires a renewed Pan-African politics that links the struggles of African descendant communities in their locales to international African descendant networks, and supranational governance arrangements. These movements and the systems that support them need to focus on people and the empowerment of their communities. A renewed Pan-African politics should be one that focuses on rights, justice, reparations, and recognition for all African descendants. The themes that the chapter will focus on to articulate these politics are those of race, recognition and identity; return, liberation, and unification.⁵

The unfinished politics of race, recognition and identity

In 2018 the Washington Post reported that the 42nd President of the United States referred to countries populated by African descendants on the continent and in the diaspora as “s ... thole countries.”⁶ He wanted the United States to have fewer migrants from these countries as he believed that they were a drain on the nation. It is a cruel irony that the Western hemisphere was built on the backs of labour from so called “s ... thole countries.” Its wealth was sustained by its colonial exploitation of African land, labour, and resources, and its global economic and political hegemony has been maintained by its continual exploitation of African mineral resources and African descendant labour.⁷ Black and brown bodies supposedly come from “s ... tholes,” but Europe and the US could not have become “great” without them. The President of the United States marginalisation of non-white people is not the cry of the isolated white supremacist, what he thinks is embedded into the economic, political, and cultural fabric of Western societies. Enslavement and colonisation was accompanied by a white supremacist ideology of race that deeply influenced, and continues to influence, Western education, religion, politics, economics, and culture.⁸ Take for example the President of France’s 2017 racist assertion, at the G20 summit, where he claimed that “Africa’s” issues were not related to those that the rest of the world faced, but were due to “civilizational problems” such as having too many children!⁹ Racism is an endemic feature of Western societies. To be truly free, therefore, African descendants need to be engaged in a global struggle for recognition.

African descendants when faced with ritual humiliations and assaults on their identities have fought back and established political, cultural, and intellectual movements that have sought to propagate that Africans are people of culture, high intellectual capability, and that our lives and cultures matter. From Black Consciousness in South Africa, to Black Power in the US, from Negritude to the Harlem Renaissance, from Ethiopia Unbound to Afrocentrism, African descendants have been refuting the white supremacist designation of themselves and have drawn inspiration from each other’s art, literature, poetry, music and political, spiritual, and cultural rhetoric to develop a deep well spring of thought and experience.¹⁰

An important example of this in the 20th century was the inspiration provided by the Universal Negro Improvement Association’s (UNIA) publication the *Negro World*. The publication was a mixture of political and cultural articles that articulated a proud Black identity. African descendant women wrote features in the publication, and poets and writers were able to express their creativity and African identity within its pages.¹¹ Published in the era of colonialism, the British banned its distribution within its colonial territories, but it was smuggled to various places and proved to be inspirational to African descendants across the world including those on the continent in their fight for independence.¹² Marcus Garvey, Amy Ashwood, and Amy Jacques Garvey, all African Caribbean descendants, were key figures in the development of the UNIA and its publications.

They join a chorus of African descendant Caribbean voices instrumental in the spreading of Pan-African positive Black identities to different parts of the world. As they moved to Europe, Africa, and the US, Caribbean thinkers and activists (Franz Fanon, George Padmore, Amy Ashwood Garvey, Una Marsden, Claudia Jones, CLR James etc.) wrote, spoke, established political and cultural organisations, publishing houses, shops, restaurants, places of worship which in their various guises fostered a sense of positive African identity in places and spaces that were virulently hostile to the presence of a positive and conscious African identity. Importantly they brought Africa to geographical spaces outside of the continent.¹³

A notable feature of Pan-Africanism, as outlined, has been the complex movement of ideas, songs, poems, fashions, faiths, thoughts, and people that have moved across space and time to inspire individuals and communities to be much more than their surroundings and economic and political circumstances would suggest that they could be.¹⁴

Although powerful political protagonists and movements have emerged from within the Pan-African sphere of influence it is still a fundamental truth that African descendants are still amongst the most marginalised and most disadvantaged populations wherever they are on the planet and they are still deemed by many to be a lesser part of humanity. A positive racialised identity has mitigated and countered some of the devastating impact of white supremacy and its consequences, but certainly has not ended it, so where does this leave us? And where do we go from here?

In order for The politics of race, recognition, and identity to actually make a more material difference in the lives of marginalised African descendants, there needs to be a comprehensive alliance of African descendant social movement forces, with African descendant institutional forces, be they governmental or civil societal.¹⁵ All African descendants need to come together regardless of geographic location to work towards common recognition and respect for African lives and cultures.

2015 marked the start of the United Nations International Decade for People of African Descent.¹⁶ The decade provides an opportunity for nations to counter racial discrimination and to acknowledge and support the contribution of African descendant communities to the global family of nations. In some respects it is an important landmark in the politics of Pan-Africanism, as it is international recognition of the collective experiences of people of African descent and the historical and contemporary discrimination that they have experienced. At the time of writing however, we are nearly halfway through the decade and aside from some memorial events to remember enslavement and some building of monuments, not much has happened. In fact as stated at the beginning of the section in the same decade some Western leaders have doubled down on their racism and cultural supremacist rhetoric and practice.

At grassroots level, African descendant communities have been organising to pursue an agenda of justice and recognition for African people.¹⁷ Grassroots social movements such as Rhodes Must Fall and Black Lives Matter, have emerged or intersected with the decade and have been led by young people.¹⁸ They have gained some traction in their local contexts and, as movements have done in the past their local struggles have inspired others to challenge police brutality, institutionalised racism, and colonial legacies across geographic boundaries. More however could be achieved on these issues if nation states with majority African descendant populations consciously supported these efforts, with financial resources, media platforms and political endorsement. And not just nation states, African descendant faith based institutions of all religious persuasions are places of influence and resource. They should be advocating on behalf of their communities that Black lives matter, that African bodies are sacred and that it is a moral imperative to support communities that suffer discrimination and marginalisation as a result of their African ancestry.¹⁹

African descendant states and civil societies need to work together on the global stage for the benefit of African descendant communities. Both are victims of white supremacy, but for too long it has been too easy for former colonial powers to continue to divide and cause distress to African descendant communities. African peoples need to recognise the political importance of collective action in order for African identities to be protected and positively enhanced. Thomas Sankara the inspirational but short lived leader of Burkina Faso, outlined this perspective in 1984 on a visit to Harlem:

*We believe that the struggle we are waging in Africa and in Burkina Faso is the same struggle you are waging here in Harlem. And we believe that we in Africa must give our brothers in Harlem all the support needed so that their struggle, too can become known. When people the world over become aware that Harlem is a living heart that beats to Africa's rhythm, Harlem will be respected by everyone. Any African head of state who comes to New York must first pass through Harlem. That is why we consider that our White House is in Black Harlem.*²⁰

Sankara recognised the importance of the people on the continent and those in the diaspora working together and supporting each other and that support was not a one-way street from the diaspora to the continent, support needed to flow both ways. The shrinking of Black Harlem,²¹ a historical jewel in the storied history of Pan-Africanism, as a result of gentrification and displacement of Black families is yet another reminder that white interests will forcibly take whatever Black communities create and build unless they are resisted. A renewed politics of Pan-Africanism needs to bring all Africans together in the struggle for recognition and affirmation of African identities, both state and civil society. In order for this to happen, much closer institutional and social relationships need to be developed between the continent and its diasporas and it is to this politics that I now turn when reflecting on the politics of return.

The unfinished politics of return

2019 marks 400 years since the first enslaved African arrived on United States soil. In remembering the occasion the President of Ghana in Washington in September 2018 reiterated a commitment that previous governments had made inviting the descendants of enslaved Africans to return home to the continent.²² In extending the invitation President Nana Addo Dankwa Akufo Addo, partly drew on the idea that Africa's lost sons and daughters could return home and reclaim their identity. It was also evident however that return was also a commercial opportunity for Ghana, the legacy of African enslavement could be used to encourage tourism and economic investment. As with the previous theme the idea of return is not a static, it has multiple meanings and resonances depending on place, history and circumstances. As we reflect on these multiple reasons the argument being made is that a renewed politics of Pan-Africanism should view return as a return to ideals. A return to African dignity, respect, communal identification and empowerment wherever African descendants find themselves.

For early enslaved Africans with distinct memories of particular places, return was a desire to return to the familiar, the specific place, where their families and land were. For enslaved African descendants born in the Americas, return meant to a more generalised place, to a land of freedom, to a place of opportunity whereby one escapes the terror of white supremacy.²³ For example, the Tabon people, enslaved Africans in Brazil, who upon emancipation in the late 19th century returned to different places in Nigeria and Ghana to make new lives for themselves.²⁴ Religious and political zeal by some Africans saw them want to leave the Western hemisphere and return with a vision to make Africa a great continent a beacon of hope proving that African descendants were the equal of the rest of humanity. Bishop Henry McNeal Turner was an ardent religious returnee inspiring African American missionary endeavours in Africa.²⁵ Martin Delaney was another key exponent of return to Africa in the 19th century.²⁶ In the 20th century the Universal Negro Improvement Association, the largest African diaspora social movement to exist, had return to Africa as part of its platform of global African descendant empowerment.²⁷ Other motivations for return include

the idea of working to assist the continent in its development and the idea of a spiritual return to Africa, which include a physical return to the holy land or a spiritual identification, with the continent viewed as a metaphorical home.²⁸

In the post-independence era new diasporic Africans have returned home for business, education, politics, retirement, and other personal or collective reasons. As alluded to at the start of the section some African descendants are returning as tourists. They want to connect with their heritage and then go back “home.” People have always and will always return to the “motherland” however the current configuration of the continent is far from a Pan-African ideal. In the midst of the multiplicity of reasons for African descendants to return, what stands out is that all people are seeking a better space; Africa as the place of hope and opportunity.

The Politics of a Pan-African return is at odds with a continent that is currently comprised of 54 nation states all with their own border controls. The vision of the descendants of enslaved Africans was of a return to a home that would exhibit the best traits of humanity, a beacon of hope for all those that had suffered under the yoke of white supremacy. Africa as currently configured with its colonial borders still intact does not constitute a place of return for many African descendants. For some their diasporic space constitutes home and one can argue that places like Brazil, Haiti, and Jamaica are as African as places currently on the continent. Hence there is an argument to make for the politics of return to be renewed in the 21st century as to a return to Pan-African ideals. Wherever African descendants reside, the ideals of recognition, justice, equality, and community empowerment should be fought for and guaranteed. These should not just be abstract ideals but should find tangible expression, whereby African descendants garner rights and have responsibilities from belonging to an African descendant collective.

This requires African descendants to have a political stake in African spaces on the continent and the diaspora. African descendants should have a passport that recognises Pan-African citizenship and automatic right of entry without visa to any state with African majority population. Pan African responsibilities could include making financial and in kind contributions to Pan-African wide continental and diaspora programmes. The funds and the decision making concerning their allocation could be administered and decided at the African Union, but an expanded union with representation from the global African descendant community. A Pan-African fund should focus on things like education, welfare, and healthcare for African descendants with an emphasis on finding African solutions to African problems. African descendants should have voting rights and be able to contribute ideas as to how these resources should be utilised. The greatest resource of Africa is its people who are scattered all over the globe. If the people could be brought together to engage in a collective endeavour and they were given the recognition, means, and status to identify as a tangible collective new life would be breathed into a politics of return. It would bring a new sense of energy to the cause of Pan-African liberation and it is this crucial theme that we now turn our attention to.

The unfinished politics of liberation

Over the past 300 years one of the key achievements of African descendants has been their victories over oppressive systems including trans-atlantic enslavement, colonialism, and apartheid. When enslaved Africans in San Domingo shook the world by overthrowing their French enslavers at the end of the 18th century and established Haiti, the first black independent republic in the Western hemisphere, it set in motion reverberations of resistance that stretched across time and space.²⁹ The 19th century saw African descendants liberate

themselves from the bondage of enslavement, the 20th century witnessed African descendants gaining freedom and independence from European colonialism and end one of the greatest indignities that Africans have suffered in this era of white supremacy—that of apartheid. For all the victories, there is still the strong sense that African descendants are only partially liberated. African descendants are still shackled by educational and economic underdevelopment, poverty, mass incarceration, and poor health. On the continent formal political independence has not resulted in freedom from European imperial exploitation. African countries are still tied to the boundaries outlined by the colonialists. African countries are still heavily dependent on the West and more recently the Chinese. They are not free to chart their own course in the world

One of the reasons why African descendants are not experiencing the proper rewards of liberation is that our oppressors have not paid the price for the havoc, mayhem, and distress that they wreaked upon the lives of so many. Enslavement and colonialism combined was 500 years of mass destruction wrought upon African descendants by Europe and its diasporas. The oppressors have expressed a few words of regret here and there but they have not made restitution for the horrendous damage that they have caused. Because they have suffered no negative consequences and not been held accountable for their iniquitous actions, they continue to treat African descendants as second class citizens, as people who require help. African descendants do not need help, African descendants require justice. It is baffling that individuals and communities responsible for murder, systematic oppression, and exploitation under apartheid, pay no restitution. They just confess to a commission and then get to live out the rest of their lives as if nothing happened. This is a travesty.³⁰ As long as the oppressors continue to benefit whilst the vast majority of victims still languish in poverty in South Africa then liberation is unfinished.

European states benefited hugely from their colonial exploitation of the African continent and some of those nations like France continue to directly exploit their former colonies manipulating their currencies and interfering in their internal politics whilst feigning benevolence.³¹ Britain, France, the Netherlands, Belgium, and other nations made massive profits from the dehumanisation of African bodies and exploitation of African land. They looted Africa of its resources both human and physical. It is incredulous that these democratic nations so called upholders of rule of law and human rights continue to deny that they owe African peoples justice and reparations for their heinous crimes against African humanity.³² Until this is addressed liberation is unfinished business.

The same is true of the United States; the most powerful nation on earth was built on the backs of the labour of enslaved Africans. The nation utilised the power of the state to privilege its white population and to subjugate its African descendant population firstly to that of sub-human and then after resistance and struggle to that of second class citizen. These are human rights violations of the highest order, which the US still refuses to pay restitution and make right. It is disgraceful that this iniquitous treatment of African descendants is still being debated and contested.³³

When individuals, organisations or states are engaged in activities that undermine African dignity and self-worth, they need to be sanctioned. There has to be a global realisation that discrimination and marginalisation of African descendants carries with it a heavy price of economic boycott, moral opprobrium, cultural and sporting exclusion, religious condemnation and social ostracism. The quest for African liberation requires that perpetrators of racism and injustice must pay a high price for their horrendous actions, that is the only way that the representation and treatment of our people in these societies is going to change. I think the African American Poet June Jordan captures the sentiment I am trying to convey in her work entitled “Poem about Police Violence”

*Tell me something what do you think would happen if everytime they kill a black boy then we kill a cop
everytime they kill a black man then we kill a cop
You think the accident rate would lower subsequently.*³⁴

If white people suffered even a modicum of genuine hurt in payback for the horrendous indignities of racism, colonialism, segregation, then I am certain they would be much less inclined to malign and exploit African descendants.

It is a stinging indictment of the Western world that not one nation from all those who have committed atrocities and gained wealth and power from their exploitative practices have paid meaningful restitution to African descendants. It lets us know that when it comes to the lives of African descendants that the West is deeply invested in and protective of its white privilege. African communities across the globe need to recognise that we need a politics of reparations and restitution if our liberation is to bring genuine freedom. White privilege and eurocentric power needs to be confronted, needs to pay for its wrongs and needs to face consequences for its evil. This is a formidable struggle. It needs collective endeavour; a renewed politics of unity if we are to achieve full liberation, and in the last section I will outline what that unity should look like.

The unfinished politics of unification

With the formal establishment of the African Union in 2002, the continent has a political infrastructure in place that is inching its way towards a form of unification. In 2013 on the 50th anniversary of the formation of the Organisation of African Unity, continental leaders set out Agenda 2063 an ambitious rhetorical plan to have

*An integrated prosperous and peaceful Africa, driven by its own citizens, representing a dynamic force in the international arena.*³⁵

Part of the agenda 2063 plans include an economic single market across Africa, a high speed rail network, free movement of people, an African e-learning higher education infrastructure, and a continental African cultural museum. The plan in and of itself is aspirational and African leaders have been meeting since its announcement attempting to make aspiration a reality. There are however other realities at play that causes a re-assessment of this political project. The African Union building was built by the Chinese and across the continent it is Chinese money, Chinese technology, Chinese labour that is driving much of Africa's development agenda. The model of development that the African Union is pursuing appears to be a capitalist model, driven by ideas of open markets and wealth generation that it is hoped will cascade down to everyone's benefit. This model of development cannot be achieved without horrendous cost to ordinary African lives and is not a price worth paying.

A renewed Pan-African politics needs to be a people centred rather than land centred politics. It needs to be global rather than just continental in focus. African brothers and sisters dying of Ebola should be a Pan-African concern. African brothers and sisters drowning in the Mediterranean should be a Pan-African imperative. African brothers and sisters being murdered by the police should be on the Pan-African agenda. African brothers and sisters being treated unjustly should be entitled to support, assistance, and ultimately justice from a Pan-African derived political community. The current political arrangements, although they give a nod to Pan-African ideals and principles, lack any serious attempt at engaging the vast majority of African descendants in their enterprises. Pan Africanism that continues to be

elite driven and ignores the wants and needs of its communities is destined to continue be an incomplete political project.

African descendants have been blessed with women and men of great vision and tenacity who believed that it was possible for a despised and neglected people to come together and establish a political order that would transform their people's lives and the world. The political kingdom needs territory and resources to function but a renewed political project needs be a mass based participatory project that focuses on empowering African descendant people across the globe. That should be the renewed emphasis of a politics of Pan-Africanism.

Conclusion

The power of Pan-Africanism lies in the fact that disparate communities of African descendants recognise that they can transcend ethnic divisions, geographical boundaries, class, gender, and other social divisions to imagine an African descendant collective free from the legacy of white supremacy. Much of the political focus in recent times has focused on African continental development as the mechanism to make that dream a reality. The call here is for renewed vision of Pan-Africanism that places the quest for justice, liberation, recognition, and protection of our identities as political projects wherever African descendants roam, an Africa for African descendants at home and abroad.

Notes

- 1 For a comprehensive history see Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018).
- 2 Marika Sherwood *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa and the African Diaspora* (New York: Routledge, 2011).
- 3 Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *The 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress Revisited* (London: New Beacon Books, 1995)
- 4 Europe and its diaspora refers to European conquest and migration starting with Columbus 1492 voyage and consequent diasporas including white migration and conquest in North America and Australasia.
- 5 I utilised these themes in my first work on Pan-Africanism and revisit them here. See William Ackah, *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions: Politics, Identity and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999)
- 6 Josh Dawsey, "Trump derides protections for immigrants from 'shithole' countries" *The Washington Post* 12 January 2018 accessed 12 August 2019 <https://www.washingtonpost.com/politics/trump-attacks-protections-for-immigrants-from-shithole-countries-in-oval-office-meeting/2018/01/11/>
- 7 Walter Rodney, *How Europe Underdeveloped Africa* (London: Bogle L'Ouverture, 1972)
- 8 J Kameron Carter, *Race: A Theological Account* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008)
- 9 Lizzie Dearden, "French President criticised for failing to acknowledge colonial role at G20" *The Independent* 11 July 2017 <https://www.independent.co.uk/news/world/europe/emmanuel-macron-africa-development-civilisation-problems-women-seven-eight-children-colonialism-a7835586.html> accessed 12 August 2019
- 10 Space does not allow for a deep exploration of the richness and depth of African descendant cultural and political thought. See Hakim Adi *Pan-Africanism: A History* for very useful summary within the context of Pan-Africanism
- 11 Tony Martin (eds) *African Fundamentalism: A Literary and Cultural Anthology of Garvey's Harlem Renaissance* (Dover: The Majority Press, 1991)
- 12 Laurence Levine "Marcus Garvey and the Politics of Revitalisation" in John Hope Franklin and August Meier (eds) *Black Leaders of the 20th Century* (Chicago: University of Illinois Press, 1982) p. 120.
- 13 African Caribbean influence on Pan-Africanism is immense, consider for example significance of Rastafarianism or Negritude. Individuals mentioned in main work have been written about for

- more general treatment of Caribbean influence on Pan-Africanism see Winston James *Holding Aloft the Banner of Ethiopia: Caribbean Radicalism in Early 20th Century America* (London: Verso, 1998)
- 14 Sidney Lemelle and Robin DG Kelley “Imagining Home Pan-Africanism Revisited” in Sydney Lemelle and Robin DG Kelley (eds) *Imagining Home Class, Culture and Nationalism in the African Diaspora* (London: Verso, 1994) pp. 1–16
 - 15 Bereket Habte Selassie “From Colonial Borders to African Unity” in *Reimagining Pan-Africanism* (Dar es Salaam: Mkuki na Nyota, 2015) pp. 113–160
 - 16 2015–2024 International Decade for People of African Descent www.un.org/en/events/africandecade/centdecade/ accessed 13 August 2019
 - 17 Many of the movements described have an active social media presence and books have been written by protagonists involved in such movements. For a radical critique of Pan-Africanism and a call to engage in grass roots Black community activism see Kehinde Andrews *Back to Black Retelling Black Radicalism for the 21st Century* (London: Zed, 2018)
 - 18 Rhodes Must Fall Oxford, *Rhodes Must Fall: The Struggle to Decolonise the Racist Heart of Empire* (London: Zed Press, 2018)
 - 19 Transatlantic Roundtable on Religion and Race “Petition to end Black Enslavement” <https://religionandrace.org/take-action/petition-to-end-persistent-black-enslavement/> accessed 13 August 2019
 - 20 Thomas Sankara *Thomas Sankara Speaks The Burkina Faso Revolution 1983–1987* (New York: Pathfinder, 1988) p. 78
 - 21 Michael Henry Adams, “The End of Black Harlem” *The New York Times* 27 May 2016 www.nytimes.com/2016/05/29/opinion/sunday/the-end-of-black-harlem.html accessed 13 August 2019
 - 22 Benjamin Tetteh, “2019 The Year of Return for African Diaspora” *Africa Renewal* December 2018–March 2019 edition www.un.org/africarenewal/magazine/december-2018-march-2019/2019-year-return-african-diaspora accessed 13 August 2019
 - 23 Edwin S. Redkey, *Black Exodus Black Nationalist and Back to Africa Movements 1890–1910* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1969)
 - 24 Alcione M. Amos and Ebenezer Ayesu, “I AM BRAZILIAN” HISTORY OF THE TABON, AFRO-BRAZILIANS IN ACCRA, GHANA’ *Transactions of the Historical Society of Ghana* 6 (2002) pp. 35–58
 - 25 Stephen Ward Angell, *Bishop Henry McNeal Turner and African-American Religion in the South* (Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 1992)
 - 26 Martin Delaney, *The Condition Elevation, Emigration and Destiny of the Colored People of the United States* (Baltimore: Black Classic Press, 1993) (first published 1852)
 - 27 There are many aspects of UNIA that have been the focus of study, for the important role of women in UNIA and in back to Africa movements more broadly see Keisha N. Blain *Set the World on Fire: Black Nationalist Women and the Global Struggle for Freedom* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2018)
 - 28 Rastafarianism a notable expression of the spiritual ideal.
 - 29 C. L. R James, *The Black Jacobins: Toussaint L’Ouverture and the San Domingo Revolution* (London: Alison & Busby, 1980)
 - 30 Mahmood Mamdani, “Amnesty or Impunity: A Preliminary Critique of the Report of the Truth and Reconciliation Commission” *Diacritics* 32. 3/4 (2002) pp. 32–59
 - 31 French malevolence in Africa was even recently attested to by fellow Europeans the Italians much to French annoyance. Angela Giuffrida “France summons Italian envoy over hostile Africa remarks” *The Guardian* 22 January 2019 www.theguardian.com/world/2019/jan/22/france-summons-italian-envoy-over-hostile-africa-remarks accessed 13 August 2019
 - 32 See Walter Rodney, *How Europe Underdeveloped Africa* also Hilary McD Beckles, *Britain’s Black Debt: Reparations for Caribbean Slavery and Genocide* (Jamaica: University of West Indies Press, 2013)
 - 33 Te Nehisi Coates, “The Case for Reparations” *The Atlantic* June 2014 www.theatlantic.com/magazine/archive/2014/06/the-case-for-reparations/361631/ accessed 13 August 2019
 - 34 June Jordan, “Poem about Police Violence” *Lyrical Campaigns: Selected Poems* (London: Virago, 1989) p. 84
 - 35 African Union “Agenda 2063 The Africa We Want” <https://au.int/agenda2063/overview> accessed 13 August 2019

The political economy of Pan-Africanism

Imagination and renaissance

Abu Girma Moges^{} and Mammo Muchie^{**}*

Introduction

The current economic and political landscape of Africa is hardly permissive to promote sustainable economic and social development. A new Pan-Africanism approach and compatible political economy institutions are necessary for an integrated and dynamic economic system to emerge and facilitate socio-economic transformation and renaissance. Pan-Africanism as a movement and an ideology, with the necessary updates to serve the new generation of Africans, could be used to promote a sustainable, optimal, and vibrant economic system in the continent and unleash the collective potential power of Africans to liberate themselves from abject poverty, destitution, and marginalization.

The post-colonial development experience of Africa has been disappointing and isolated efforts of countries to initiate development without reforming the old and exploitative institutions of the colonial regimes have largely ended up in failures and stagnation. The legacies of extremely exploitative institutions of slavery and colonialism were so burdensome and deeply traumatizing that African countries found it difficult to overcome. At the same time, the newly independent states were fragile, and the initial conditions were so desperate, that they provided little opportunity for serious reform and economic vitality. Whereas the challenges of underdevelopment were daunting, the necessary human and investment capital was in short supply and the poverty trap was firmly in place. Promising potential for development were available, and the continent enjoys generous endowment of natural resources, and yet this potential had to be realized through strategic planning, cooperation, visionary leadership, hard work, and the spirit of mutual prosperity. The realization of the huge potential for development in turn required bold and pragmatic institutional reforms that could improve effective mobilization and allocation of resources, optimal degree of specialization, and articulation of the revealed comparative advantage of Africa for sustainable development.

^{*} Faculty of Humanities and Social Sciences, University of Tsukuba, Japan.

^{**} University of Tshwane University of Technology, South Africa.

Pan-Africanism was inspired to fight injustice, brutal crimes against humanity, and exploitation perpetrated on Africans in the form of slavery, colonialism, and racism. The struggle against these evils and their remnant legacies continues to this day. And yet, it was ultimately the economic liberation of Africans that would ensure the achievement of the ideals of Pan-Africanism. To this effect, the idealism of the Pan-Africanism movement needed to be grounded on fundamental shared values about the dignity and basic rights of individual Africans and serve as a new framework for economic liberation, mutual prosperity, and shared destiny of Africans.

Political independence of Africa provided a new opportunity for economic liberation and development. There was broad understanding on the ultimate goals and efforts to use Pan Africanism to facilitate sustainable and shared development (Nkrumah 1963, 173–75; Rostow 1960, 6). There was also a pragmatic realization of the fact that the institutions of colonialism, by deliberate design, could not serve as basis for sustainable economic development of the newly independent African countries. And major reforms to replace coercive and extractive institutions by productive, inclusive, and democratic institutions was a policy priority. And yet, governments across the continent largely failed to do away with the exploitative and extractive economic structures.

Reforming institutions is always difficult and requires coordinated and credible collective actions. However, most of the African governments were not able to mobilize the necessary political and social capital to undertake such bold measures. As a result, with a few exceptions, the post-colonial African experience demonstrates lack of leadership to initiate effective reform measures for structural economic transformation. The opportunities for bold reform were lost and remained largely squandered. It is critically important to address these challenges within the framework of Pan-Africanism if the continent is to turn the opportunities into reality.

This chapter develops a political economy argument whose central thesis is that Pan-Africanism has considerable potential to promote economic and political development with affinity to mutual development if it can create collective solidarity to eliminate deep-rooted vested interests in protecting extractive institutions that doomed a sustainable and inclusive development process. In this context, we argue that it is time to make use of the power of imagination and innovate a new set of political economic strategies that focus on rebuilding the pillars of horizontal and vertical integration and synchronization of policies and practices. Most of these initiatives are predicated, however, by the existence of a functioning and inclusive political and economic institutional framework across countries on which Pan-African economic and political order is built to shape the collective behavior of Africans. We firmly believe and make argument that the fundamental and priority reforms are not beyond the capacity of contemporary African governments to deliver if they are committed, and have the necessary incentives, to steadily eliminate coercive and exploitative policies and institutions in coordination within the framework and spirit of Pan-Africanism. While it takes radical institutional reforms of revolutionary proportions across Africa to realize these objectives, we must also recognize that the 21st century brave world we are living in does not seem to accommodate or cooperate unless Africans earn their collective bargaining power.

A tale of an idea whose time has come

Pan Africanism, from its early inception, has been a movement as well as an ideology for collective liberation and freedom. It is a shared spirit of the African for liberation, freedom,

justice, and development. While what the idea aspires to promote is clear enough there is ambiguity with respect to the conceptual domain of Pan-Africanism.

What is Africa, African, and Africanity somewhat remain points of contention. This has its influence on the context in which the Pan African movement is expected to embrace and operate within the framework of Africa and beyond. Who is African and what defines Africanity was a subject of academic controversy that shapes the discourse on the Pan-African movement. Unless we are clear about the players, it would not be conceivable to articulate the ideals of the movement. The source of this controversy emanates from a valid observation that Africans who reside in Africa do not have or show the same degree of affinity to Africanity (Mazrui 2009, 36–37; Eze 2013, 681–82). The issue of where to set the domain of contemporary Pan Africanism as black movement or an African movement is not settled even if the two movements share objectives and ideals. This is compounded by the broader scope of the African domain within the diaspora who have evolved as African Aliens as well as Alien Africans all over the world. The first group were subjected to slave trade and including their descendants who have had little if any meaningful current contacts with their ancestors in Africa while the latter group refers to the exiled Africans from the brutalities of the governments of their country of origin or from the vagaries of economic destitution. It is apparent that a movement which is based on such a loose concept might remain contentious and needs further clarity.

With respect to what Pan-Africanism stands for, there are diverse views and perspectives. Starting from the very definition of the concept, we encounter ambiguity. For instance, Kodjoe consider Pan Africanism as the acceptance of oneness of all African people and the commitment for the betterment of all people of African descent (Kodjoe 1986), while Esedebe defines the concept as a political and cultural phenomenon that regards Africa, Africans, and African descendants abroad as a unit (Esedebe 1994, 5–8). A simpler approach focuses on the domain for two sets of people that currently reside in Africa and the African Diaspora to be eligible for inclusion in the domain of Pan-Africanism (Fosu 1999, 8). These perspectives are instructive and yet remain imprecise, and leave us with ambiguity in what the movement really is all about and its domains. Africa is indeed the cradle of mankind and civilization and in a way, we are all Africans. What is apparent and emphasized in these views is that unity of Africans, and yet they are not clear how to accommodate the diversity within the African domain and remain relevant within the scope of the movement.

These are valid academic concerns and reflect layers of context. And yet at a deeper level, we argue, the domain of Pan-Africanism needs to be defined by the very spirit and values of the movement and what it aspires to achieve. As a complex and evolving concept, Africanity could not convincingly be defined by the color of the skin, ethnicity, kinship, or geography. We contend that an African is whoever finds Africa her/his physical, spiritual, emotional, and social home – a true home to live in peace, freedom, hope, and fulfillment. This conceptualization accepts that who resides at this august home land deserves the respect, care, community, and goodwill of their fellows. It opposes exploitation, repression, violence, neglect, and deprivation of rights. It is also a journey of self-discovery and consciousness to embrace the spirit, internalize its values, and act upon those principles that enshrine Pan-Africanism. It is argued hence that Pan-Africanism, however one affiliates oneself to it, refers to the movement to liberate the African from the bonds and legacies of slavery, colonialism, racism, repression, and to ensure fundamental economic and political rights. The movement has the moral responsibility and authority to defend and support fellow Africans, and at the same time exert pressure on whatever forces, be they foreign or home grown, that disturb

the African home and hamper the real liberalization and prosperity of the African person. It is important to note that the spirit of Pan-Africanism is earned and not bestowed by mere accident of birth. One earns Pan-Africanity by embracing humanity, shared concern for the welfare of fellow Africans, upholding its values, and doing active engagement to promote it.

The inspiration for the birth of Pan-Africanism was the struggle for justice, dignity, liberation, freedom, and equal opportunity that Africans collectively and individually aspire to achieve in the world. Pan-Africanism was born as a movement in response to gross violations and crimes committed by foreign forces and their domestic collaborators. Africans indeed have diverse identities and yet share values on an extensive level that the concept of a modern notion of African nation is effectively invoked to anchor the future development of the continent (Muchie 2000, 298; Moges 2015, 61). Pan-Africanism should be based on the seedling bed of the contemporary African sphere that aspires to consolidate the solidarity and shared values of all Africans. The movement should also recognize contemporary issues, discriminations, biases that the African faces not only in the diaspora but also within Africa.

The Pan-African movement is and should be anchored on critical values and rights that all human beings should enjoy irrespective of their country of origin, culture, religion, place of residence, or any other designations. Africans are subject to brutal and extensive abuses and xenophobic violence by their fellow Africans and such cruel behaviors are not only unacceptable but also must be condemned unanimously by those who share the spirit of Pan-Africanism. When the freedom and liberties of any African is violated and the potential of generations of Africans are squandered, that amounts to breaching the values and spirit of the movement. In this regard, Africa has so much to grapple with and must innovate policies and implementation mechanism to uphold basic values and rights of their fellow Africans. These protections have far reaching implications that promote the ideals of Pan Africanism as well as making the world a much better place for all.

Pan-Africanism was motivated and driven by political imperatives and it was a response to the urgent demands for liberation of Africa from European colonialism. The political liberation was the most urgent objective of Pan-Africanism and yet the movement had objectives beyond political liberation. The central and enduring theme of the movement has remained to be the total economic, social, cultural, racial, and political liberation and development of the African Nation. The organized movement was born among the African diaspora. However, the center of gravity of the movement was and remains to be at its home land in Africa while the diaspora remains an active and progressive agent of the process. The challenge has been how to effectively use the massive but fragmented human, natural, innovative, entrepreneurial, intellectual, and social capital of Africa to promote sustainable and inclusive development that consolidates the power of Africa.

The experiences of post-colonial Africa have been largely dismal. The priorities of the nation state stood in tension against the aspirations of Pan-Africanism. Leaders of post-colonial Africa did not manage to replace the extractive and coercive institutions of colonialism with more inclusive, creative, and democratic systems. Even those with aspirations to embrace the democratic system soon fell to the temptations of continuing the coercive institutions of authoritarianism and repression. The disregard and indifference towards violence and discrimination against Africans within Africa and abroad are grave moral, ethical, and political failures that require immediate attention to prevent further erosion of the spirit of Pan-Africanism.

The macro perspective of the Pan-Africanism movement was dominated by rhetorical statements by political leaders whose practical constraint and policy priorities at the national level would hardly allow them to function at supra-national institutions. As a result, and

despite their rhetoric, leaders of the newly independent nation states across the continent developed the infrastructure for centralization, repression, and authoritarianism. The ideals of the rule of law and the emancipation of Africans from the legacy of coercion were eventually shelved and a new brand of autocratic and dictatorial forces took shape in one form or another. Those who survived and consolidated political power in this political cannibalism were the most brutal and cruel among us who had the brazen will to power through whatever means available. This had devastating effects on the lives of Africans and the very spirit of Pan-Africanism.

The political process by which parties come to power shape the way decisions are made both at national and continental levels. The continental organizations have been mere clubs of dictators and autocratic rulers with very limited, if any, legitimacy to represent the interest of their population. This limited the capacity of these organizations to engage the broad masses and to cultivate mutual affinity and trust across diverse communities. Unlike the anti-colonial struggle, the post-liberation movement did not cultivate a continental wave to engage the newly emerging nation states (Padmore 1972; Young 1982). The Pan-Africanism rhetoric hence stood parallel to, and sometimes in conflict with, national practices. As a result, the new nation states were largely preoccupied by local issues and played safe within the realities of the cold war world. These movements and experiments could not undo the legacy of extractive and coercive institutions that dominated the African continent during the colonial rule. Instead, more coercive and brutal institutions emerged orchestrated by the local elites with help from their foreign patrons.

Despite modest efforts, Pan-Africanism largely lost dynamism before its momentum was sufficiently built to transform institutions and practices across the continent. The nation states failed to recognize the potential that collective effort under the auspices of Pan-Africanism could have provided for their mutual development. Instead, short sighted policies and lack of visionary leadership reduced cooperation and mutual trust among governments and kept the ideals of Pan-Africanism at the margin. Nationalist sentiments still prevail and hamper sustained effort to build continental institutions for sustainable development. Governments that came to political power through all forms of non-democratic ways remain reluctant to submit to the consent and aspirations of their subjects and upholding to the principles of democratic institutions. Achieving the minimum requirements of democratic mandates and institutions such as the rule of law, the consent of the electorate, the check-and-balance in the exercise of political power, accountability, and transparency in public policy making are conspicuous by their absence in most of contemporary Africa.

The coercive and extractive institutions have remained in place and the elite makes effective use of them for enriching itself at the expense of the masses. Whereas the cost of the conventional system is huge in terms of lost opportunities and standard of living for the masses, the cost is spread across powerless and voiceless families who are caught in the vicious cycle of repression and poverty. However, this system rewards the few organized elites extremely well and the intensity of support and protection grows over time with what is at stake. What the ordinary African demands is nothing extraordinary. It is freedom from exploitation, freedom of movement, and opportunities to earn a decent living. These demands are within the capacity of African governments to deliver if they undertake the necessary recognition of these natural and human rights, and pursue policies to that effect.

Beyond the national efforts, it is necessary to set the framework of operation at continental level. The fate of more than a billion Africans could not depend on the goodwill of governments across the continent. It must be anchored on empowering the African, her political, human, economic, and social rights and adopting the institutions to deliver. This

requires visionary imagination and innovative leadership to establish a functioning institutional framework and do away with extractive economic and coercive political institutions to recast the very relation of Africa with itself and the rest of the world. It is within this perspective that the power of imagination could be effectively used to unleash the potential, and yet unfulfilled, power of Africans is desperately needed. It takes, at minimum, dignifying the African person and subjecting political power to her/his consent and upholding the rule of law and equal access to opportunities.

Development aspirations and squandered opportunities

The perspective of the previous section highlights the evolution and spirit of Pan-Africanism. One of the typical features of post-colonial Africa is the failure of leadership to make effective use of the spirit of Pan-Africanism to initiate and sustain economic development. African governments could not undertake the necessary institutional reforms that could have liberated the individual African and her communities to realize their considerable potential for development. For far too long, despite the receptiveness of Africans to innovative ideas and incentives, economic stagnation and squandered opportunities were predominantly the rule rather than the exception across Africa (Meredith 2014). Africa lost ground against the rest of the world and the cumulative effect has been devastating.

The African economies were not only poor and backward at the dawn of independence but also highly exploitative. Moreover, the countries were too small and fragmented that most of them did not constitute a viable political economy landscape. The dual economic structures of predominantly subsistence agriculture in conjunction with pockets of mining and basic processing industries faced with the challenges of industrialization and job creation for a rapidly growing labor force. The dominant share of the labor force is left to scrape a living in low productive agricultural and informal sectors. The overall post-colonial economic performance has been largely dismal, and economic stagnation and poverty dominated the continent; and Africa found it hard even to maintain its relative economic position in the brave and competitive world economic space.

African countries widely adopted a state-led economic development approach that emphasized the critical role of the state in decision making and resource allocation with central planning. This process marginalized market forces and the private sector in resource mobilization and allocation decisions. While the government sector has significant positive roles to play in economic development processes, marginalization of the private sector or its exclusion from playing a part commensurate to its capacity was the wrong approach. These policy choices contributed to further weakening an already weak private sector and eventually for the government to control the commanding heights of the economy. Economic development requires effective and coordinated effort of both the private sector as well as the government sector in economic affairs.

There have been competing theories in explaining the poor growth performance of the African economies (Easterly and Levine 1997; Landes 1999; Beinhocker 2007; Venables 2010; Acemoglu and Robinson 2013). Most, if not all, agree that economic growth performance is highly dependent on economic policies and institutions in which economic agents undertake their decisions and respond to overall incentive structures. Sustainable economic growth and development requires countries putting their policies and institutions right and responsive. It is the decisions of individuals in their daily struggle to earn a living that cumulatively shape the aggregate operation of an economy. Africans have shown their creativity and skill to adapt and earn a living even in the most hostile circumstances.

Ordinary Africans make rational decisions given their binding constraints despite the excessive violations of their legitimate rights to earn their daily bread. It is not hard to imagine that such talented and creative people could successfully improve their lot if they have the freedom and the opportunity to do so. The role of the private sector is crucial and irreplaceable in the process whereas the government sector could play only a supplementary role.

The experiences of newly industrialized countries support that the government sector can play a critical role in the development process by addressing the challenges of market failure and a weak private sector. The relative role of the private-public sector in economic affairs is dynamic and should be viewed as an ever evolving process. Market failures are pervasive in developing countries and so do government failures. The art of economic policy-making demands balancing the two forces in a pragmatic and realistic way. The private sector in Africa has been repressed and stunted to such an extent that it operates far below its potential in subsistence and informal sectors. Despite tentative efforts to liberalize and reform economic policies, most of the African economies operated in a hostile policy environment for market and private sector development. Non-market forces exercise commanding power in the economy and often abuse their power to extract whatever small surpluses that are generated in the economic system. Abuse of political power for extracting economic surplus from the poor has, unfortunately, been the prevailing medium to which state and government apparatus were put in operation in the African political economy landscape. Liberalization reform measures have improved the role of the market and the private sector in an increasing number of African countries and yet there is much more to be desired before these forces are given the roles that commensurate with their potential.

The global economy has been growing steadily over the long run, mainly driven by technological progress. Despite the promising potential, due to both external but mainly self-induced policy distortions, the post-colonial African economies managed to grow on average at a rate of 0.79 percent per annum for almost the past five decades. This was far below the global average of 1.54 percent and the average rate of 2.91 percent for developing economies. Such dismal economic growth performance, whatever the pattern of income distribution or redistribution, could not allow a sustainable rise in living standard or alleviate poverty in African countries. African economies have lost a lot of ground to the global economic competition to secure better job opportunities and living standards for their population. Africa should have grown twice faster just to maintain its relative economic status of the 1960s. In other words, had the continental economy managed to grow at a modest average rate comparative to other developing countries, African average real per capita income would have been about US\$5,200 by 2017. The actual income per capita of US\$1,911 is only about a third of this level.

Currently, an entire continent of Africa, with a population of 1.3 billion and an estimated labor force of about 415 million, manages to produce goods and services in aggregate only about a third of what a tiny country of Japan produces with a labor force of just 66 million (United Nations 2017). This is a clear indicator of the level of squandered opportunity that we have lost in the last half century. It is an opportunity that awaits to be realized in the future should we have what it takes to exploit it effectively. It is imperative for the current generation of Africans to critically reflect and find out what forces hampered our collective productive capacity and doomed us to squander our human and natural resource capital. It is only after such deep recognition and realization that we can make the necessary reforms that inculcate a meritocratic, innovative, cooperative, and productive system for mutual economic prosperity.

This economic situation, coupled with a rapid population growth rate of 2.6 percent per annum saw the total population grow from 285 million in 1960 to nearly 1.3 billion now, has made the African situation increasingly unsustainable. Moreover, the African economy has increasingly become marginal in the global production, investment, trade, and innovation sphere. Africa has lost, from its already small role in the global trade regime, from about 6 percent share in global export and import of merchandise during the 1960s to the current 2 to 3 percent. The situation is also similar with respect to attracting investment resources for creating job opportunities and increasing productivity of labor. African economies, despite small variation across economies and sectors, attract just a mere 3 percent of the global investment flows. The repercussion of such gross failures and squandered opportunities is significant on the economic, political, and social life of Africans. The combination of these elements has kept too many Africans trapped in poverty and hopeless destitution. As a result, the welfare of the ordinary people remained at its chronic poverty level and failed to improve over decades.

African economies are not only poor but also exhibit high and worsening patterns of income distribution and inequality (Moges 2014, 51–52). These are symptoms of an economic system that squandered its opportunities and potential to mobilize both its natural and human resources to create a dynamic and inclusive economic system to benefit and empower the ordinary African. These factors, in combination with unmet demands of a rapidly increasing African youth for educational and job opportunities, have perpetuated a failed and broken economic system and fed into the urge to migrate in search of better opportunities. African governments and their distorted policies are the primary reasons for the failure of these economies to deliver economic growth and job opportunities for Africans. A very brutal but symbolic manifestation of such desperate failure and hopelessness is the decision of an increasing number of African youth to cross deserts, oceans, the Medeteranian sea, hostile host communities, and more to join the rank of African Aliens across the world. This is the most humiliating but real testament to the gross failures of African governments and their repressive violations of the basic rights of Africans to lead a decent life in their own countries and communities.

The long-term development hurdle of African countries has been the prevalence of extractive economic and political institutions that protected the few elites at the expense of the masses. These institutions were imposed on Africans by coercion, either by foreigners or by local elites. Africans have been deprived of economic development and condemned to abject poverty mainly because of the weaknesses of law and order, property rights, violation of political rights, and legacies of these systems. Africa is characterized by complex diversity, ethnic and linguistic fragmentation, and geographical variations (Easterly and Levine 1997; Easterly 2006; Venables 2010). Slavery and slave trade were coercive and brutal systems of extractive institutions. Moreover, the legacy of slavery and slave trade across African communities has been such that there is a deep-rooted suspicion and mistrust across communities that survived the test of time and the leadership of post-colonial Africa could not effectively address.

It is hence apparent that creating political, cultural, and institutional affinity across African countries by necessity involves remodeling, reforming, and replacing with new inclusive economic and political institutions. The foundation for mutual trust, cooperation, solidarity, mutual prosperity can be planted only if credible reforms are put in place and Africans embrace and implement them with their own initiatives. Cooperation cannot be sustainable when the parties operate under repression. Building the minimum benchmark of institutions of rights, freedoms, duties, responsibilities play their share in cultivating shared concerns and

dreams that citizens aspire to achieve. This is a slow and challenging process but there is no short cut to achieving a sustainable, continental wave of momentum that serves the economic and social development of Africa. And this can be achieved only through visionary leadership that recognizes the dismal situation in which Africans find themselves and realize the huge opportunity squandered by lack of effective and practical leadership.

Whereas extractive economic and political institutions may not necessarily prevent episodes of economic growth, such an approach could not generate sustainable and shared economic growth and development. The elites have vested interest in growing the economy so long as they continue to extract surplus from the system. However, by depriving the masses of the opportunity for economic security, the system prevents creative innovation and progress in structural transformation processes of their economy. The failure to cultivate inclusive and shared growth process, and prevalence of extractive political and economic institutions, much more than ethno-linguistic fragmentation, doom countries to stagnation and their population to abject poverty (Acemoglu and Robinson 2013). This robs society of the opportunity to initiate and sustain an inclusive economic system that rewards innovation and promotes the accumulation of physical and human capital in the system as well as development affinity and mutual prosperity.

In the context of Pan-Africanism, the ultimate motivating and uniting force would be the emergence of a vibrant Pan-African nationalism that would make it possible for Africans to cultivate shared developmental, social, and political affinities across the continent (Nantambu 1998; Walters 1993; Muchie 2000, 298–99; Moges 2015, 61–62; Moges and Muchie 2019, 48–49). African nationalism could emerge only if the ethnic and tribal loyalty gives way to a new consciousness among the African communities. Africans indeed have the essential attributes and affinities that bond them as a solid nation with shared legacies, histories, and roots that remain to be developed across the continent. The new consciousness could express itself in the eventual freedom of Africans to move across countries and boundaries without losing their linkage with their community of origin and exploring the opportunities that the continental economic and socio-political environment provides.

Pan-Africanism in the 21st century needs to address the economic welfare of the African as well as the political and social development aspiration of the population. This in turn requires robust economic growth that catches up with the rest of the world and generates leverage to reduce poverty for a mutually beneficial growth process. The African continent has, for long, failed to attract foreign direct investment both in terms of volume as well as quality of technological innovation to better exploit the potential of the continental economies (World Bank 2012, 2019; UNCTAD 2019). Domestic saving and investment performance have also been weak. These have been prominent features of these economies for a long time. The African economies largely remain starved of investment resources and have had a depressed level of labor productivity, which represent lost opportunities for both Africa and the rest of the world.

The Africa nation? The power of imagination for renaissance

Africa was the cradle of mankind and civilization with complex social organizations and a sophisticated economic system for their era (Meredith 2014). The rise and fall of African civilizations and the ordeal that followed point to the danger of a fragmented effort to protect Africans from newly emerging global powers. The emergence of global capitalism and the technology that facilitated distant explorations and massive expansion for fortunes left societies like Africa's vulnerable and weak. This gave rise to uncontrolled and devastating

exploitation of the African labor force to feed into the agricultural production and processing system. The African was forced away from his home and increasingly became an object and considered as less human to be possessed by others, and those remaining in the homeland remained weak and vulnerable. This was not only exploitation but complete reconstruction of the very idea of an African as an inferior race. This extraordinary crime and those who officially perpetrated it largely remain unaccountable for the grave crime against humanity. The legacy of this brutal crime remains to exert its negative influence on Africans for generations.

The driving force behind the Pan-African movement was political aspiration that sought to unite Africans against slavery, colonialism, and racism. From its inception by the direct victims of the system among the African diaspora, the movement served as an ideological foundation for a united purpose and struggle against injustice and crime. The projects of the Organization of African Unity (OAU), and now the African Union (AU), closely followed this political philosophy and strategy. And yet, the ultimate goals of political independence were to facilitate economic development and improve the standard of living of Africans. This objective has not been achieved yet and the failures shadow the movement.

The African Union could play an instrumental role to mobilize Africans to cope better against the challenges of a rapidly changing world, to create a conducive environment for competitive advantage, and initiate the process of renaissance. By the recent record of the continental institutions, this might sound too much to expect and destined for bitter disappointment. As it stands now, the African Union is not capable or effective to represent the aspirations, priorities, and dreams of more than a billion Africans. However, we remain optimistic that the power of imagination and visionary leadership can convert this latent power of the AU to respond to the urgencies and priorities of the African masses and earn their support at the grassroots level. It takes careful reorientation and reformulation of the power base of the AU to spring from the grassroot constituency and institutionalize their voices through formal processes of representation. This in turn requires bold and transparent reform measures that eventually turn the African Union into a pillar for Pan Africanism.

The first set of doable measures include synchronization of the policies of member countries and representation at the Union from elected politicians. This could be followed by measures that ensure freedom of movement of Africans within the continent for better contribution and opportunities. Promoting free trade in goods and services increases further the market opportunities as well as the mutual interdependency within the African economic space. Further measures to improve the flow of intra-African investment, effective allocation of resources, and the creation of a market environment could consolidate the economic foundation and capabilities of African economies.

Nation building requires a solid and shared foundation of values and affinity among the players and the population in the political, economic, and social space. Africa, with its complex and huge diversity, does not seem to have the conventional seeds to grow into a nation. Nonetheless, we argue that Africans have critical shared values and basic ideals that could start the long and difficult process of nation building. These strategies could face challenges and yet they are achievable provided that the framework in which African governments earn their political power reflect the will, consent, and interests of African citizens at the grassroot level. This is the way that synchronization of policy and values come into play and facilitate the transition from passive to active strategy of the economic and political integration and economic inter-dependence of Africa. These are measures that would facilitate the very objectives of Pan-Africanism and the establishment of a united African Nation.

The manner and speed of establishing a political union on the continent, and the ideals of building the African nation, have remained a contentious issue. There are strong passions on both sides of the argument and given the current disparities across countries, it takes time to consolidate the base. However, the strategy needs to identify the priority areas and work towards synchronized policies and practices to cultivate continental institutional framework. Once these building pillars are set in place, we argue that innovative leadership and mutual interest could bridge the gap and effectively direct the latent power towards genuine representative, democratic, inclusive, and humane system of government that could pave the way to a workable economic and political space for collective development and affinity to Africanity.

It is imperative to emphasize, however, that economic integration could hardly be successful until, and unless, African countries are seriously implementing the measures to do away with extractive economic institutions that are supported by coercive political institutions. A progressive continental institution could not be built by the sum of extractive national institutions that dominate the continental political economy landscape. Creative and productive economic institutions and a representative system of democratic institutions are necessary to create the enabling environment to unleash the underutilized development prospects of Africa. It takes learning and adapting the experiences of successful inclusive institutions to make the transition from economic and political stagnation to sustainable economic growth and democratic political system.

It is therefore important to emphasize that Pan-Africanism in the economic and socio-political sphere requires setting the necessary conditions for inclusive economic and political institutions at national and sub-national levels. The proposal for African unity is a call for freedom, basic rights, and equitable opportunities for all Africans now and the generations to come. It is plausible to argue that such objectives would have the support of the masses and no ground for fear of the integration process. And yet, there are possible causes for opposition that come from the local elites whose vested interest is to keep the status quo despite its mediocrity and disastrous outcomes. The masses, however, are still deprived of their political voices, rights, and freedoms in most of the member countries. Their choice and priorities, which are in line with the spirit of Pan Africanism, could be heard only when democratic institutions replace coercive and exploitative systems of institutions. This clearly shows that the path towards effective Pan-Africanism is built on the foundations of inclusive and democratic institutional benchmarks across member countries.

Concluding remarks

The political economy of Pan-Africanism is faced with strategic challenges and its prospects depends on the policy choices that Africans make at a national and continental level to operationalize the power of their collective imagination for renaissance. The current strategy has focused on building national and regional building blocks that are expected to develop into continental economic and political communities. This approach, despite its seemingly practical imperatives, has in built features that weaken the spirit of Pan-African nationalism that aspires to realize the massive latent potential trapped and fragmented throughout Africa. Realizing the economic and political potential of Pan-Africanism, we argue, requires recognizing and internalizing the true values and spirit of an African seeking to achieve dignity, freedom, and opportunities for development. This in turn requires building inclusive economic and political institutions with supportive systems of laws and policies that would serve as an engine to promote an integrated and sustainable African development.

Pan-Africanism does make political and economic sense. The current series of extractive economic and political institutions are the central bottlenecks for economic and political

development. It is imperative for African countries to pursue synchronized and imaginative reform policies that appeal to ordinary Africans and address their challenges to cultivate shared values and policies for an empowered and united Africa. The urgent task is to build an effective framework of policy reform that enables African communities to replace extractive and coercive institutions by participatory and inclusive institutions for sustainable economic development.

Bibliography

- Acemoglu, Daron and Robinson, James. 2013 *Why Nations Fail: the Origins of Power, Prosperity and Poverty*. London: Profile Books.
- Beinhocker, Eric. 2007 *The Origin of Wealth: evolution, Complexity, and the Radical Remaking of Economics*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard Business Review Press.
- Easterly, William. 2006 *The White Man's Burden: why the West's Effort to Aid the Rest Have Done so Much Ill and so Little Good*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Easterly, William and Levine, Ross. 1997 Africa's Growth Tragedy: Policies and Ethnic Divisions, *The Quarterly Journal of Economics* 112(4): 1203–1250.
- Esedebe, Olisanwuche. 1994 *Pan-Africanism: the Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*. Washington, DC: Howard University Press.
- Eze, Michael O. 2013 Pan-Africanism and the Politics of History, *History Compass* 11(9): 675–686.
- Fosu, Augustin Kwasi. 1999 An Economic Theory of Pan-Africanism, *The Review of Black Political Economy* 27(2 (Fall)): 7–12.
- Kodjoe, Ofuately. 1986 *Pan-Africanism: new Directions in Strategy*. Lanham: University Press of America.
- Landes, David. 1999 *The Wealth and Poverty of Nations: Why Some are so Rich and Some so Poor*. New York: W.W. Norton & Company.
- Mazrui, Ali A. 2009 “On the Concept of ‘We are All Africans’”. In *Who Is an African? Identity, Citizenship and the Making of the Africa-Nation*, edited by Adibe Jideofor, 35–55. London: Adonis & Abbey Publishers.
- Meredith, Martin. 2014 *The Fortunes of Africa: A 5000-Year History of Wealth, Greed, and Endeavour*. New York: Simon & Schuster.
- Moges, Abu G. 2014 The African Middle Class: Some Uneasy Poverty and Inequality Arithmetic, *Journal of International Public Policy* 38: 49–65.
- Moges, Abu G. 2015 The Economics of Pan Africanism: A Political Economy Perspective, *Journal of International Area Studies* 36: 55–71.
- Moges, Abu G. and Muchie, Mammo. 2019 Innovating the Political Economy of Pan Africanism: Imagination and Renaissance. In *Innovation, Regional Integration, and Development in Africa-Rethinking Theories, Institutions, and Policies*, edited by Oloruntoba S.O. and Mammo Muchi, 43–60. Cham, Switzerland: Springer.
- Muchie, Mammo. 2000 Pan-Africanism: an Idea Whose Time Has Come, *Politikon* 27(2): 297–306.
- Nantanmbu, Kwame. 1998 Pan-Africanism versus Pan-African Nationalism: an Afrocentric Analysis, *Journal of Black Studies* 28(5 (May)): 561–574.
- Nkrumah, Kwame. 1963 *Africa Must Unite*. London: Panaf Books.
- Padmore, George. 1972 *Pan-Africanism or Communism. The Coming Struggle for Africa*. New York: Anchor.
- Rostow, W. Walter. 1960 African Economies: lessons of History, *Africa Today* 7(7): 5–8.
- UNCTAD. 2019 *UNCTAD Statistics Database*. Accessed on February 8, 2019. <https://unctadstat.unctad.org>.
- United Nations, Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division. 2017 *World Population Prospects: The 2017 Revision*, DVD Edition. Accessed on February 8, 2019. <https://population.un.org/wpp>
- Venables, Anthony. 2010 Economic Geography and African Development, *Papers in Regional Science* 89 (3): 469–483.
- Walters, Ronald. 1993 *Pan Africanism in the African Diaspora: an Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements*. Detroit: Wayne State University Press.
- World Bank. 2012 *De-Fragmenting Africa: deepening Regional Trade Integration in Goods and Services*. Washington, DC: World Bank.
- World Bank. 2019 *World Development Indicators Database*. Accessed on January 9, 2019. <http://databank.worldbank.org>.
- Young, Crawford. 1982 *Ideology and Development in Africa*. Connecticut: Yale University Press.

From Pan-Africanism to Black Internationalism

Charisse Burden-Stelly and Gerald Horne

Introduction

In recent years, scholars have raised doubts about the usage and utility of the term “Black Internationalism.” In *Pan-Africanism: A History*, for example, Hakim Adi contends that while the Martinican Negritudist Jane Nardal coined the term “internationalisme noir” to describe the relationship between “Negroes” of diverse origins and nationalities, neither writers nor activists of African descent have historically described themselves as such. Thus, contrary to scholarly trends in the United States academy, distinctions made between Pan-Africanism and Black Internationalism are essentially ahistorical and arbitrary.¹ Likewise, Margaret Stevens questions whether Black Internationalism has the ability to name and describe the struggle for a race-based worker’s revolution enunciated in newspapers like *Challenger* as early as 1919.²

While the usage of Black Internationalism may be absent in the archives, it nonetheless has merit as a *conceptual framework* that specifies a form of Pan-African activism, organizing, strategy, and scholarship inscribed in, engaged with, or adjacent to international Marxist-Leninist formations. In other words, Black Internationalism in the work of scholars including Robin D.G. Kelley, Sundiata Cha-Jua and Clarence Lang, Roderick Bush, Minkah Makalani, Cheryl Higashida, and Keisha Blain elucidates the particular ways that Black anti-capitalists and “fellow-travelers” mobilized Pan-Africanism to radical ends.³

This chapter examines key thinkers, organizations, events, and movements to trace the intellectual and political ascent of Black Internationalism as the Pan-African enunciation of broader trans-territorial leftwing insurgencies. While Black Internationalism was nascent in the interwar period, we contend, it matured after World War II as Pan-Africanism expanded into an intercontinental project in concert with the rise of international radical movements aimed at forging an alternative to Euro-American hegemony and domination. Part I defines Black Internationalism as a conceptual framework and explicates it as an ethical practice, an alternative epistemology, and a radical politics. Each section of Part II corresponds to one of the six constitutive elements of Black Internationalism: anti-white supremacy/continental unity, anti-colonialism/self-determination, anti-imperialism/revolutionary transformation, anti-capitalism/socialism, anti-sexism/radical Black humanism, and anti-war/durable peace. As both a critical and constructive radical politics, Black Internationalism aims not only to dismantle the extant system, and also to create the world anew.

Part I: Defining Black Internationalism

As a conceptual framework, Black Internationalism is temporally, ideologically, and geopolitically distinct from Pan-Africanism. The latter describes the ideas, modes of organizing, and movements preeminently concerned with the commonality of purpose among, and the social, political, and economic emancipation of, African peoples on the Continent and in the Diaspora since at least the late eighteenth century. By contrast, the seeds of Black Internationalism were planted in the interwar period when events including the Russian Revolution and the New Negro Movement borne out of World War I set to work a form of coordinated Black radicalism, enunciated by the likes of Hubert Harrison and Grace Campbell, that traversed colonial and imperial borders. The 1945 Pan-African Congress, with its emphasis on Black proletarian agency, workers' struggles, labor militancy, and immediate independence, represented the flowering of African descendants' trans-territorial leftwing activism into Black Internationalism that, by the Bandung Conference of 1955, was bearing fruit.

Relatedly, while Pan-Africanism spans the ideological spectrum to include thinkers as diverse as Marcus Garvey and Shirley Graham Du Bois, Black Internationalism is best understood as its left-wing subset. Such conceptual precision challenges the anti-Marxism and/or epistemological McCarthyism that erases, obscures, distorts, or sanitizes the contributions of Black communists, socialists, and anti-capitalists to broad-based movements like Pan-Africanism.

With respect to geopolitics, Black Internationalism is ensconced in broader regional, intercontinental, and inter-ethnic offensives that span the Americas, the Caribbean, Africa, Asia, and the Middle East. In this way, it is the Pan-African enunciation of Afro-Asian solidarity, Third Worldism, and Tricontinentalism emanating from the global left.

Black Internationalism is thus a conceptual framework that illuminates ecumenical anti-capitalist modes of analysis, struggles for liberation, and efforts at worldmaking emerging from the local, national, and global conditions of African people. It centers critical political economy analysis; theorizes the international character of Blackness as a special condition of surplus value extraction; interrogates intra-racial class conflict and antagonism; insists upon the importance of culture in the history, progress, and self-emancipation of African descendants; and strives for the eradication of white supremacist capitalist imperialism.

Informed by and engaged with real-world struggles, Black Internationalism simultaneously envisions and endeavors to build institutions, communities, and societies that affirm the humanity and prioritize the political, economic, social, and cultural well-being of the superexploited. It therefore encompasses African descendants' multivalent and persistent anti-systemic and counterhegemonic challenges to political economies and legitimating discourses that sustain racialized and gendered exploitation, oppression, dispossession, and class-based domination.

As Black Internationalism reached its zenith in the context of post-World War II capitalist restructuring, the Cold War, and the international insurgency of "*les damnés de la terre*"⁴ against coloniality, the United States became the focus of unrelenting criticism given its position at the nexus of global capitalist hegemony, neocolonialism, imperialism, militarism, and anti-African violence and repression. Likewise, Black Internationalists in the United States became understood as constituents of the Third World waging struggle in the heart of empire.

Moreover, Black Internationalism is an ethical practice, an alternative epistemology, and radical praxis. Ethically, it is the practice of cooperative social activity based on shared values, a common conception of "social good," and mutual comradeship.⁵ Expectations and standards are set and maintained through consistent participation in a variety of interactions, including conversation, debate, organizing, institution building, and political struggle. Ethical practice depends upon justice and honesty, and importantly, demands courage—the

willingness to place one's self at risk for the betterment of others—to cultivate reciprocal care and concern. Black Internationalism also offers what Philosopher Charles Mills calls an “alternative epistemology” whereby those in subordinated groups who have access to zones beyond the universal offer a critical reinterpretation of the social system.⁶ Brought about by both structural oppression and the refusal of pseudo-universal positions that maintain relations of domination, Black Internationalism overcomes the illusory perceptions of hegemonic groups, presents a liberating conceptualization of society, illuminates relations of subjection, and repudiates imposed distortions of reality. Finally, as radical praxis, Black Internationalism is constituted by counter-hegemonic and anti-capitalist activism, organizing, movement building, and institution making in an effort to collectively overthrow structures of domination and collaboratively forge human-centered social relations across borders.

Part II: Elements of Black Internationalism

Anti-imperialism and revolutionary transformation

Black Internationalism conceptualizes imperialism as a constitutive component of all stages of capitalist development. Here, sociologist Oliver Cromwell Cox is instructive. He argued that, from the outset, capitalist foreign trade resulted in imperialist relations not least because rivalries between imperialist countries led to the annexation of foreign territories and/or the imposition of political influence over foreign people for the purpose of land appropriation and the control over labor supplies. The essence of imperialism, then, is exploitation, plunder, domination, deception, and force to the end of expanding and protecting commerce and stabilizing national incomes in stronger nations at the expense of weaker nations. Additionally, Cox maintained, racism is an enduring feature of imperialism because “imperialism invariably carries with it contempt for the exploited group. This social fact constitutes the primary source of modern race prejudice and antagonism.”⁷

Black Communist leader James W. Ford's 1929 report on the Second World Congress of the League Against Imperialism presents a position on imperialism characteristic of Black Internationalism. He analyzed the extant stage of capitalist development to be constituted by the “imperialist oppression of the Negro peoples of the world.” On the African continent, this oppression included the consolidation of partition and the “complete enslavement of its people,” the arresting of industrialization that hindered the development of the “toiling masses,” and the relegation of the Continent to a source of raw material, a market for European goods, and a dumping ground for accumulated surplus capital. In the United States, internal imperial relations intensified Black exploitation by both “white big business” and the “rising Negro bourgeoisie.” The oppression of the Black working class was exacerbated by rigid racial barriers, disenfranchisement, and lynching, which gave Black exploitation its special character: superexploitation. The West Indies, subjected to U.S. militarism and occupation, Ford explained, was largely transformed into a marketplace for American goods. Throughout Africa, the U.S. South, and the Caribbean, the ruling class subjected Black workers to forced labor, laying railroads, building roads and bridges, and working in mines. They were entrapped on plantations through peonage, subjected to convict leasing, and suffered intolerable working conditions and routinized violence.⁸

Additionally, cultural imperialism manifests in the repression of oppressed countries' endogenous cultural life. As revolutionary leader, politician, and theorist Amílcar Cabral maintained, foreign political and economic imposition is impossible if the “cultural personality” of a society is maintained; therefore, systems like assimilation and apartheid were used to

directly or indirectly “liquidate” the culture of the dominated and thereby undermine resistance. Cultural imperialism disrupts the relationship between the history and culture of a given society by imposing foreign ethics, values, social relations, and processes of development.⁹ As Ford and Cabral revealed, at the conjuncture of imperialism and racism is the totalizing effort of old and new powers to politically, economically, and culturally control African nations and peoples. In other words, imperialism is a local, national, and international phenomenon that negatively impacts states and groups alike and super-exploits those of African descent.

Anti-imperialism thus rejects the violent conscription of the entire world into the project of capitalist accumulation through processes of expropriation, dispossession, and violent obtrusion. It challenges the immiseration of the global laboring classes—and the particularly harsh effect on African descendants—and the diminished ability of individual nations to pursue their own programs of political and economic development. Anti-imperialism demands political economic autonomy to upend characteristic patterns of imperialism, including the transfer of surplus value from dispossessed nations to metropolitan centers, the retardation of productive forces in nations historically subjected to imperial relations, and the transformation of weaker nations into an extension of foreign capitalist imperatives. It also challenges the disruption of endogenous social relations through the creation of “comprador” and petit-bourgeois classes that serve the interests of international capital.

Huey P. Newton’s theory of revolutionary intercommunalism is one example of a Black Internationalist project of revolutionary transformation. The United States, he reasoned, had ceased to be a nation-state and had become an empire by globally expanding its technical, military, economic, political, cultural, and social forms of control. All peoples and nations were conscripted into its dispersed and expansive project of expropriation and labor exploitation. As such, decolonization and revolutionary nationalism in and of themselves were insufficient because it was impossible to return to a state of former existence. Revolutionary intercommunalism emplaced the struggles of African descendants amongst other “unemployables” of the world, including Third World and poor peoples. Together, the historical task of the dispossessed was to seize power, redistribute wealth, socialize labor, and realize communism as the highest stage of development. Likewise, these communities should determine their own destinies and develop cultures that were human-centered as opposed to dehumanizing and destructive. At the same time, Newton recognized that the fight to free territory, as was conveyed in the Cuban and Chinese Revolutions and in the Korean, Vietnamese, Angolan, and Mozambican struggles, was essential to challenging “reactionary intercommunalism,” or the hoarding of land, labor, resources, and technology by imperial powers.

Revolutionary intercommunalism is quintessentially Black Internationalist because, along with offering a global analysis of imperialism and a supranational program for human flourishing, Newton stressed attention to the specificity of contradictions in different localities. For instance, he maintained that it was the special character and the historical conditions of African-Americans that positioned them as the vanguard of world revolution. Slavery made them the first internationalists by undermining their ability to form attachments to the nation, by allowing them to easily relate to other cultures, and by making them progressive and disposed to equality.¹⁰ Revolutionary intercommunalism, then, held intact the dynamic between the historical and material conditions of African descendants, international cooperation, intercontinental solidarity, and inter-ethnic affinity—a relationship that was key to the revolutionary transformation of humanity.

Anti-(Neo)colonialism and self-determination

Black Internationalism posits the inextricable relationship between imperialism and colonialism. Imperial nations were simultaneously colonial exploiters that, in parasitic fashion, sucked resources and labor from colonized nations and peoples for their own nourishment. This relationship of “colonial enslavement” meant that colonized countries were forced to sacrifice the interests of their populations and their independent development to act as economic appendages of imperial capitalism. Colonialism was thus one aspect of imperialism reflective of broader forces that negatively altered the mode of production, social relations, and historical development in colonized countries. In other words, colonial rule was a political phenomenon fixed in broader relations of exploitation and expropriation.

Neo-colonialism, according to the continental Pan-Africanist and first President of Ghana Kwame Nkrumah, was the last stage of imperialism.¹¹ It was the condition by which states appeared to possess sovereignty but, in actuality, were subjected to political control from outside forces. Likewise, the commanding heights of the economy continued to be controlled by foreign capital. Because “flag independence” did not completely sever colonial ties, neo-colonial formations invited or compelled local elites to act as agents or servants of exogenous powers. Neo-colonized nations generally suffered from underdevelopment, which positioned them on the periphery of the world-system and subjected them to inequitable and declining terms of trade. Such inequity disempowered newly decolonized countries in international relations. In neocolonial formations, imperial countries use economic sanctions to punish, development aid to intervene in, and military might to overpower weaker nations. This multimodal monopoly on force came with the capacity to destabilize, overthrow, or directly invade—often in the name of freedom and democracy.

Anti-colonialism, then, is the struggle for independence from foreign domination and for freedom from European and white supremacist rule. Anti-neo-colonialism, by contrast, is the struggle against material, social, and cultural degradation that persists after the end of formal colonial administration. The life-chances of the masses and workers did not substantially improve in the postcolonial era because the social and political structures had not radically transformed, but rather had merely transitioned to the control of another ruling class. Pan-Africanist intellectual and Black Power activist Walter Rodney explained the transition from anti-colonialism to anti-neo-colonialism thus:

...When I was in Jamaica in 1960, I would say that already my consciousness of West Indian society was not that we needed to fight the British but that we needed to fight the British, the Americans, and their indigenous lackeys. That I see as an anti-neo-colonial consciousness as distinct from a purely anti-colonial consciousness.¹²

In other words, anti-neo-colonialism is the struggle against traditional colonial powers, United States hegemony, corporate imperialism, and the perpetuation of such relations by indigenous bourgeois classes who stand to benefit from the further integration of African and Caribbean countries into the global capitalist system.

Self-determination in the context of Black Internationalism was the key to cultivating a world in which African descendants had full control over their political, economic, social, and cultural destinies. The Asian-African Conference (commonly known as the Bandung Conference), held from April 18–22, 1955 represents one of the earliest statements of self-determination as the necessary foundation of a viable future. The conference was

instrumental in connecting struggles for African liberation with insurgencies in newly independent Asian countries to assert the Third World as a force in the international community. The conference was planned by the governments of India, Indonesia, Pakistan, Burma, and Ceylon, and twenty-four nations were invited to participate.* The explicit exclusion of the United States, Western Europe, and the Soviet Union was a bold act of self-determination that underscored participants' support for cooperative nation-building, geopolitical autonomy, and world peace. The Bandung conference sought to cultivate a locus of power and leadership that could result in economic and political autonomy predicated upon the cooperation of Africa and Asia.¹³

Even though the Bandung Conference was not a wholly leftwing affair given the inclusion of a range of nations that were communist, allied with the United States, friendly with "Western" powers, or neutral, it nonetheless created the conditions for a move toward the more explicit embrace of economic, political, and racial radicalism by inaugurating what would come to be known as Non-Alignment. In doing so, the "Third World" offered a geopolitical counterweight to both capitalist hegemony and communist orthodoxy. As Richard Wright noted, the conference was not an episode in Cold War politics or a so-called communist front; its central aim was to develop a strategy for cooperation, economic development, and most importantly, self-determination.¹⁴ In this way, the Bandung Conference is an essential event in the history of Black Internationalism because, in creating inter-continental networks, African descendants expanded their chances of creating a world-system that prioritized their imperatives.

The importance of self-determination is underscored in the Ten Principles of Bandung, which included: respect for fundamental human rights; respect for sovereignty and territorial integrity; non-intervention and non-interference in a country's internal affairs; respect for the right of each nation to defend itself singly or collectively; the avoidance of acts of threat or aggression or the use of force against the independence of a country; the settlement of international disputes by peaceful means; the promotion of mutual interests and cooperation; and respect for justice.¹⁵ The Bandung Conference was instrumental to the development of Black Internationalism in the 1950s because, as Black communist and Pan-Africanist Alphaeus Hunton pointed out, the conference expanded the arena for African freedom struggles.¹⁶

Anti-white supremacy and continental unity

The critique and rejection of white supremacy—a "racial identity politics" born out of the cross-class alliance among European imperialists and settlers—and concomitant processes of racialization is a critical component of Black Internationalism. White supremacy congealed internationally through "apocalyptic" developments of the seventeenth century, including colonialism, the emergence of global capitalism, the violent expropriation of indigenous land, ever-increasing enslaved African labor, and the looting of all groups "beyond the pale" of whiteness.¹⁷ White supremacy also became the glue that bonded otherwise disparate Euro-American nations through discourses of superiority that complimented the confiscation

* The complete list of countries that attended, along with the five invitees, is as follows: Afghanistan, Cambodia, China, Egypt, Ethiopia, Gold Coast, Iran, Iraq, Japan, Jordan, Laos, Lebanon, Liberia, Libya, Nepal, the Philippines, Saudi Arabia, Sudan, Syria, Thailand, Turkey, North and South Viet-Nam, and Yemen.

of resources, conscription of labor, and deracination of culture from “inferiors” on the darker side of the color-line. From the very beginning, white supremacy constituted the ideas and institutions of the capitalist world-system and was necessary to the functioning of the economic base.

Fascism, an especially pernicious form of white supremacy, was a key target of Black Internationalism. During the interwar period, Black Internationalists including CLR James and George Padmore linked Fascism not only to white supremacy, but also to colonialism and imperialism by arguing that as long as Africans continued to be treated as inferior “others” to be ruled by Europeans, the threat of Fascist tyranny would always be present.¹⁸ As well, Black Internationalism linked the Fascist drive to amass territory to racist policies in the United States that circumscribed the rights and equal treatment of African-Americans. All of the elements of Fascism—suppression of freedom, appeal to tradition, rigid legal-economic imposition along racial lines—could already be found in the Jim Crow south.

Perhaps more than any other event, the invasion of Ethiopia (Abyssinia) in 1935 spotlighted the parallels between Fascism and U.S. white supremacist terrorism. The failure of the United States and the League of Nations to defend Ethiopia’s sovereignty, despite the 1928 Kellogg-Briand Pact, mirrored the government’s unwillingness to protect Black people from domestic racial terrorism. Likewise, U.S. industrial capitalists like Henry Ford provided aid to Fascist Italy to dispossess Ethiopia in much the same way that they financed the economic exploitation of Black people throughout the Southern “Black Belt” and in Northern ghettos. Thus, the superexploitation of African descendants undergirded white supremacist aggression in the United States and in Ethiopia alike.

The experience of white supremacy in the United States, ranging from individual attacks by the Ku Klux Klan to the structural injustices of Jim Crow, fomented anti-Fascist sentiments and a sense of solidarity with Ethiopians. The nascent Black Internationalist response to Ethiopia’s invasion was the most important manifestation of anti-Fascism as one aspect of rejecting white supremacy during the “popular front” era. This preceded by almost a decade the more well-known, and liberal, “Double V” campaign for victory abroad against Fascism and victory at home against Jim Crow. Black radicals on both sides of the Atlantic, including Esther V. Cooper and Amy Ashwood Garvey, agitated against the invasion, and myriad leftwing organizations from the Abraham Lincoln Brigade to the Pan African Reconstruction Association were organized in support of the country that symbolized African resistance. These organizations lobbied not only for the freedom of Ethiopia, but also for antiracist and anti-imperialist legislation and practices in the United States and throughout the colonized world. Relatedly, labor strikes broke out across the Caribbean, influenced by protests against the invasion and the failure of European metropolises to intervene.¹⁹

The Black Internationalist resolution to global white supremacy and Fascism was intercontinental and transcontinental unity. One manifestation of this was the formation of the Organization of African Unity (OAU) on May 25, 1963 in—not inconsequentially—Addis Ababa, Ethiopia. This event represents the height of Black Internationalism not least because its condition of possibility was Ghana’s independence in 1957 under Kwame Nkrumah, who had a vision of a liberated and united Africa. Nkrumah believed in a non-aligned foreign policy fundamentally predicated on preserving Ghanaian—and by extension African—independence. He also believed that African revolution, which included the liberation of the masses from international and domestic capitalist exploitation, was a prerequisite to adopting the best economic path for Ghana: socialism.

Nkrumah thus convened the Conference of Independent African States on April 15, 1958 for the eight independent African nations at the time to develop a coordinated program of trade, mutual cultural and educational cooperation, and support for liberation struggles throughout the continent. The conference also took a firm stance against colonialism, racialism, and imperialism, and eschewed the arbitrary bifurcation of the Continent by the Saharan desert to assert a united African bloc.²⁰ However, given his belief that the unity of all African people—trade unions, youth organizations, cooperative movements—and not just heads of state was necessary to combat neocolonialism and imperialism, he convened the All African Peoples Conference in December 1958. There, he analyzed the relationship between national liberation, continental unity, and socialist transformation, a cornerstone linkage of Black Internationalism that would be internationalized at the Tricontinental Conference of 1966. The objectives outlined at the Conference would remain key to Black Internationalist struggles in subsequent decades: assault on colonialism and imperialism, the use of both peaceful means and force, coordinated efforts to achieve independence and freedom, rejection of racialism, condemnation of South African apartheid, and concerted efforts toward a union of African States.²¹

While there were many regional bodies that developed based on divergent objectives, ideologies, and strategies as the African continent formally decolonized throughout the 1960s, e.g., the Monrovia and Casablanca blocs, the Pan-African Freedom Movement of East, Central, and Southern Africa, the Union of African States, and the Brazzaville Group, it was Nkrumah's Black Internationalism, clearly articulated in the 1958 conferences held in Accra, that set the stage for the OAU. The latter provided an official body through which African states could advocate not only for themselves, but also for the Diaspora. The resolution adopted at the first Conference of Independent African Heads of State dealing with apartheid and racial discrimination is a case in point. The resolution condemned racial discrimination in Africa and throughout the world and expressed "the deep concern" shared by African people "by the measures of racial discrimination taken against communities of African origin living outside the continent and particularly in the United States of America." It further urged the United States to continue efforts to end these "intolerable malpractices which are likely seriously to deteriorate relations between the African peoples and governments on the one hand and the people and Government of the United States of America on the other."²² The OAU also expressed a commitment to support African freedom struggles; as Haile Selassie I put it, "Our liberty is meaningless unless all Africans are free. Our brothers in the Rhodesias, in Mozambique, in Angola, in South Africa, cry out in anguish for our support and assistance... We must align and identify ourselves with all aspects of their struggle. It would be betrayal were we to pay only lip service to cause of their liberation and fail to back our words with action."²³

Selassie's words have particular symbolic importance because, much like Africans throughout the world had mobilized against the Fascist invasion of Ethiopia three decades earlier, so too were Black Internationalists organizing against Portuguese Fascist colonialism in southern Africa. The Third International Congress of Africanists, for example, issued a resolution that "unreservedly" condemned Portuguese colonial aggression in Angola, Mozambique and Guinea Bissau as well as external agencies—namely the North Atlantic Treaty Organization—that were arming, financing, and maintaining imperialism, colonialism, and apartheid in southern Africa. The organization applauded material and moral support from governments inside and outside Africa, particularly the socialist countries, and welcomed the increasing assistance from African Liberation Support Committees and other

international organizations. Moreover, the resolution affirmed the necessity for Africanists, scholars, and colleges and universities to further the cause of African liberation.²⁴

The collapse of Portugal's Fascist regime in 1974—a direct result of anticolonial struggles in Angola, Mozambique, Guinea Bissau, and Cape Verde—and the defeat of Portugal in Angola and Mozambique in 1975, was a triumph of Black Internationalism not least because, given the instrumental role of Cuba in the victory, it represented the expansion of continental unity into intercontinental solidarity. In other words, the defeat of Fascist Portugal brought into fruition the Marxist-Leninist, tricontinental, inter-ethnic vision that had been cultivated at the Tricontinental Conference held in Havana in 1966. More than five-hundred representatives from national liberation movements, guerrilla organizations, and independent governments of some eighty-two countries gathered to forge a radical internationalist challenge to United States and North Atlantic hegemony. There, Amílcar Cabral presented an analysis of the goals and foundations of African liberation movements and emphasized that the armed struggle in Guinea-Bissau, alongside anti-imperial struggles like those in Vietnam and Palestine, were central to world revolution. Out of this conference came the Organization of Solidarity with the People of Asia, Africa, and Latin America, and more importantly, international support for the liberation of southern Africa.

This mode of Black Internationalism also extended to the United States. In 1972, African Liberation Day (ALD) activism led to the development of the African Liberation Support Committee (ALSC) in 1973. The committee represented mass-based popular support for anti-imperialism, anti-Fascism, anti-racism, and the liberation of the Portuguese colonies and white settler colonies (e.g., Rhodesia, South West Africa, and South Africa).²⁵ It is important to note that such support for these struggles was not without its tension and contradictions. One faction of Black Internationalists tended to support the six liberation movements that, in 1969, had been approved by the World Peace Council and the Afro-Asian Peoples Solidarity Organization as the representative organizations of national liberation in southern Africa: the African National Congress (South Africa), the South West Africa Peoples Organization (Namibia), the Party for the Independence of Guinea-Bissau and Cape Verde, the Front for the Liberation of Mozambique, the Popular Movement for the Liberation of Angola, and the Zimbabwe African People's Union. Many U.S. Black Nationalists and those who subscribed to Maoism, on the other hand, tended to support the Pan-Africanist Congress (South Africa), the Union for the Total Independence of Angola, and the Zimbabwe African National Union.²⁶ Despite these real differences that ultimately led to the decline of the ALSC by 1975, the ALD/ALSC insurgency as a whole nonetheless epitomizes Black Internationalism given its radicalism, mass base, anti-imperialism, and support for anti-Fascist guerrilla struggles in Africa.²⁷

Anti-capitalism and socialism

Black Internationalism posits that the expansion of the capitalist world-economy, constituted by surplus value extraction, labor exploitation, land and resource expropriation, and the perpetual accumulation of profit, has relied upon the superexploitation of nations and peoples subjected to imperialism, colonialism, and antiblack racism. As the “father of Harlem radicalism” Hubert Harrison explained, Black workers in the United States “form a group that is more essentially proletarian than any other American group” because enslaved Africans were brought to the “new world” to be ruthlessly exploited. This reality fixed their social status as the most despised group, which in turn intensified their subjection.²⁸ Likewise, organizations like the American Negro Labor Congress and the Anti-Imperialist League analyzed that the

imperial superexploitation of Black nations like Haiti in the first quarter of the twentieth century for the purposes of consolidating “Wall Street” control over land, commercial relations, and production was accompanied by the brutalization of Black labor, the export of Jim Crow practices, military occupation, and political repression.²⁹ Mobilization against superexploitation is thus central to Black Internationalism not least because it highlights how white supremacy, racialization, and the “badge of slavery” exacerbate the conditions of exploitation to which the general working classes are subjected. As the transgenerational Black Marxist Harry Haywood argued in 1948, “[T]he stifling effects of the race factor are most strikingly illustrated by the drastic differences in the economic and cultural status of Negroes and whites... Beyond all doubt, the oppression of the Negro, which is the basis of the degradation of the ‘poor whites,’ is of separate character demanding a special approach.”³⁰

A seminal Black Internationalist enunciation of anti-capitalism is *We Charge Genocide: The Historic Petition to the United Nations for Relief from a Crime of the United States Government Against the Negro People*, edited by the Black Communist William Patterson (with significant help from his wife and comrade Louise Thompson Patterson) and submitted to the United Nations by the Civil Rights Congress in 1951.³¹ The petition meticulously documented the past and present subjection of Black people in the United States to institutionalized oppression through consistent and persistent discrimination in employment, unfair wages, forced ghettoization, inequitable and inferior accommodation and services, and the denial of justice in the courts. It further argued that this superexploitation was sustained by “genocidal terror,” white supremacist law, and the drive of monopoly capitalists for super-profits. Importantly, *We Charge Genocide* noted that, for primarily economic reasons, the historical and geographical locus of antiblack genocide was the “Black Belt” of the southern United States. This was due in large part to plantation systems of sharecropping and peonage—legacies of slavery—in which Black political and economic rights were virtually non-existent, Black laborers were inexorably tied to the land through debt, and the threat of violence and death precluded demands for justice. This superexploitation was the basis of “racist contamination that has spread throughout the United States.”³² Like the Scottsboro case, the Rosa Lee Ingram case, W.E.B. Du Bois’s *An Appeal to the World*, and the subsequent Free Angela Davis Campaign, *We Charge Genocide* is a particularly important form of Black Internationalism because, in taking the plight of African-Americans to the United Nations, it conveyed that the conjuncture of racism, capitalism, and militarism was a world problem that required an international response. In other words, superexploitation in the United States was more than a domestic concern because “discriminatory policy at home must inevitably create racist commodities for export abroad—must inevitably tend toward war.”³³

Black Internationalism endorses socialism to upend capitalist superexploitation and the root causes of human exploitation: imperialism and perpetual war. As Black educator and “professional revolutionary” Doxey Wilkerson averred,

The peoples of the world are moving. Their immediate struggles are for decent standards of living, for civil liberties, for national liberation and independence, for peace... Their best teacher is that increasing exploitation which inheres in the capitalist-imperialist-war system itself... As capitalism continues to decay with internal crises... as the peoples of the world achieve greater clarity as the real cause of their discomfiture, there may be expected to develop a might world movement against the whole rotten system of oppression and war.³⁴

In a socialist system, production is planned and carried out for use because, rather than profit, the end of this economic system is to assure the well-being of the populous. The tenets of socialism promote common ownership of the means of production to prioritize the economic and cultural level of the masses; the liberation of oppressed people through the eradication of the small parasitic class of owners who are dependent on the perpetuation of colonialism; sustainable internal expansion that does not require imperialist conquest of foreign markets; and a concomitant foreign policy directed at world peace. In short, Black Internationalism advocates socialism to resolve the internal contradictions of the capitalist economy that compel reactionary social policy domestically, aggression internationally, periodic depression, mass unemployment, and entrenched poverty—malformations exacerbated by antiblack racism.³⁵

Anti-sexism and radical Black humanism

Black Internationalism also includes the analysis of “triple oppression,” or the special and multimodal character of Black women’s exploitation at the intersection of racial capitalism, imperialism, and male chauvinism. In 1936, for example, the lifelong Black radical Louise Thompson explained that Black women’s superexploitation in the capitalist mode of production was based on their race, sex, and subordination in the labor market.³⁶ That same year, Black militants Marvel Cooke and Ella Baker published an article titled “The Bronx Slave Market” in which they studied triple oppression as it related to Black domestic workers. Cooke and Baker explained that the entanglements of racism, sex-based labor subordination, and structural poverty were deeply intensified by the Great Depression and forced Black domestic workers to pauperize their labor for the abysmal wage of less than thirty cents an hour. This form of labor exploitation was unique to the female sex because domestic work was conventional “women’s work,” and it was racialized insofar as the denigration of Black people fitted this group of women for low-wage, unprotected, contingent labor.³⁷

In 1940, the Black communist activist-intellectual Esther V. Cooper took a different approach to analyzing triple oppression, arguing in her master’s thesis, “The Negro Woman Domestic Worker,” that the exclusion of Black women from trade unions and the organized labor movement reified their superexploitation by excluding them from labor protections afforded to other classes of workers. Likewise, the argument that Black domestics were “unorganizable,” Cooper claimed, was based on racist and sexist assumptions that continued the social stigma and vulnerability of this class of workers.³⁸ Moreover, as Cooper underscored, the organization, unionization, and protection of Black women is essential to the eradication of capitalist exploitation. In other words, the continued marginalization of Black women workers severely hampers the international proletarian struggle. Following this line of argumentation, Claudia Jones concluded in the 1949 article, “An End to the Neglect of the Problems of the Negro Woman!” that Black women’s special form of subjection made them the most militant and therefore the most essential to socialist revolution. She forcibly argued that Black women’s responsibility as partial or sole breadwinner, treatment in the labor market, and active participation in the social, political, and economic life of the Black community rendered them “the real active forces—the organizers and the workers.”³⁹ As such, their empowerment is instrumental to liberation.

Given the sexual character of racial capitalist exploitation, anti-sexism is a central component of Black Internationalism. This entails the dismantling of patriarchy and the abandonment of male chauvinism, misogyny, and the subordination of women to secondary roles in organizations

and movements. Likewise, the “special demands” of women, from ownership over their bodies to maternity leave to birth control, must cease to be auxiliary and become part of the objective demands for social transformation. In other words, anti-sexism requires specific attention to the ways that differently gendered and sexed bodies are subjected to exploitation, oppression, and discrimination in the family, the home, the workplace, the labor market, and in relationship to the capitalist mode of production; the organization and leadership of all people irrespective of sex or gender; the eradication of roles in all areas of society that subordinate women and reduce them to a servile class; the socialization of productive and reproductive roles; and the creation of social and material conditions in which all African descendants can flourish in the public and private sphere.

Black Internationalism thus entails what we name “Radical Black Humanism,” a form of Black anti-sexist mobilization and analysis inscribed in broader anti-capitalist and anti-imperialist praxis. Here, the work of the Sojourners for Truth and Justice (STJ) is exemplary. Founded in September 1951 by a cadre of radical women in the United States,** STJ sought to harness the power of Black women to reveal and combat the forms of oppression that differentially impacted women and men. For example, the group sustained the fierce international battle for the freedom of Rosa Lee Ingram, a Black sharecropper and widowed mother of twelve who had been convicted in 1948 (along with two of her sons) of killing a white man who attempted to assault her.⁴⁰ They noted that as a poor Black mother, Ingram was vulnerable to not only capitalist exploitation but also sexual assault. The group’s internationalist efforts included submitting a petition, written by W.E.B. Du Bois, to the United Nations Commission on Human Rights demanding that the General Assembly take up the Ingram case. STJ also protested the Korean War because of its specific impact on Black men. Indeed, the organization was formed in part to “rally Black women to defend their men” and to organize wives and mothers “of the legally lynched ... of those imprisoned and threatened with prison ... widowed by police brutality ... [and] who mourn [their] sons dead in foreign wars” against the insults, humiliations, indignities, and repression of the U.S. government.⁴¹

To protest the oppression and repression of Black women and men, STJ organized a sojourn to Washington D.C. from September 29–October 1, 1951 and worked closely with a number of leftist entities including the Civil Rights Congress, the National Negro Labor Council, and the Progressive Party (for which STJ co-founder Charlotta Bass was the 1952 Vice-Presidential candidate). The organization inveighed against white supremacist terrorism, conveyed in the murder by bombing of NAACP activist Harry T. Moore and his wife Harriet in Mims, Florida; warmongering and aggression against other nations, manifested in the Korean War (and the conscription of their sons into it); and McCarthyism and McCarranism, demonstrated in the indictment of W.E.B. Du Bois in 1951 and the revocation of Paul Robeson’s passport that same year. In short, STJ attended to the specific ways that racist capitalist imperialism affected women and men in order to protest the overall dehumanization of oppressed people generally, and African descendants particularly.

** The STJ initiating committee was comprised of Charlotta Bass (California), Alice Childress (New York), Shirley Graham (New York), Josephine Grayson (Virginia), Dorothy Hunton (New York), Sonora B. Lawson (New York), Amy Mallard (Georgia), Rosalie McGee (Mississippi), Bessie Mitchell (New Jersey), Louise Thompson Patterson (New York), Beulah Richardson (Mississippi), Eslanda Robeson (Connecticut), Pauline Taylor (Ohio), and France Williams (California). Other notable members and affiliates included Lorraine Hansberry, Claudia Jones, Audley Moore, and Angie Dickerson.

Another example of radical Black humanism is the Combahee River Collective's (CRC) demand for the recognition of Black women as "human, levelly human." In highlighting the cultural, experiential, and class-specific nature of Black women's oppression, the CRC called for a deep analysis of how race and sex shape relationships to the mode of production and concomitant social relations. Such careful attention was part of the broader struggle for a socialist society in which Black women, men, and children could progress together. Likewise, in their rejection of "lesbian separatism," the CRC guarded against the reactionary turn to biological determinism as the basis of oppression, underscoring that dehumanization derives from capitalist social structures out of which racial, sexual, heterosexual, and class "privilege" are born.

For the CRC, Black feminism was a necessary hermeneutic to raise the political consciousness of, and do political work among, Black women in the service of upsetting the economic and sexual relations that constrict all human life.⁴² In other words, Black feminism was one enunciation of radical Black humanism that shed light on "black women's extremely negative relationship to the American political system (a system of white male rule)" and Black women's "need as human persons for autonomy."⁴³ Like STJ, the CRC strove for solidarity with progressive Black men, activism around the fact of racist exploitation, and the liberation of all oppressed people from capitalism, imperialism, and patriarchy.

Anti-war and durable peace

Finally, Black internationalism contends that war and militarism are technologies of imperialism, (neo)colonialism, white supremacy, capitalist expansion, and sexist exploitation. Insofar as the prosperity and privilege of imperial countries requires cheap labor from and expropriation of materials produced in poor countries, militarism legitimates the contravention of sovereignty and the mobilization of extraordinary violence in the service of dispossession. The ruling elite and "labor aristocracy" in imperialist countries—especially the United States—support perpetual war to defend their "way of life" and standard of living against racialized populations and those who advocate the socialist transformation alike. Warmongering facilitates the drive for endless profit through the continual construction of enemies and threats that ostensibly menace democracy, prosperity, freedom, and security. Often, these enemies are populations of color; for example, it is no coincidence that the Cold War got "hot" in countries where "non-white" populations resided, including in Korea, Vietnam, Angola, and Palestine.

Anti-war activism thus demands an end to war as a method of hoarding wealth, establishing monopolies, pauperizing labor, and resigning racialized populations to disease, destitution, and destruction. As well, insurgency against imperialist warfare entails the elimination of foreign military bases; the end of military pacts like the North Atlantic Treaty Organization, the Southeast Asian Treaty Organization, and the Warsaw Pact; the prohibition of the use, production, testing, and storage of nuclear weapons; and the dismantling of existing nukes. It is important to note that, while Black Internationalism rejects war, it recognizes armed struggle in the service of liberation as essential to bringing about a permanent end to international conflict.

Black Internationalism advocates durable peace as the anecdote to war. W.E.B. Du Bois was a tireless activist for world peace—efforts for which he was awarded two international peace prizes. In a 1953 television appearance with leftist lawyer and Congressman Vito Marcantonio, Du Bois summed up his belief in peace thus: "Cease fire now. Bring back our troops... dismantle our costly forts that encircle the world. Stop our aid to empires trying to

conquer colonial peoples struggling desperately to be free... Cut our impossible tax burden, house our people, educate our children and declare a world policy of peace on earth, goodwill toward men.”⁴⁴ For Du Bois, peace was the only way to ensure decent and humane material and social conditions for all.

In 1950, he ran for the New York seat of the United States Senate with the motto “peace and civil rights” for the American Labor Party. He chose this party because they were “the only recognized political party in New York that st[ood] unequivocally for Peace and world conference to end war...”⁴⁵ During his rigorous speaking tour, he argued that capitalist exploitation, the negation of civil rights, imperialism, colonialism, and the repression of radicals were antithetical to a durable peace.⁴⁶ Along with running for the Senate, Du Bois co-founded the Peace Information Center (PIC) with a cadre of progressives on April 3, 1950 to spread knowledge about the peace movement that was burgeoning across the world and to promote friendship and cooperation between nations. Importantly, the PIC helped to circulate the Stockholm Peace Appeal, also known as the “ban the bomb petition.” The document emerged in March 1950 out of a worldwide insurgency that called for the outlawing of atomic weapons, international controls to enforce the measures, and the treatment of any country that used atomic bombs as war criminals that had committed crimes against humanity.⁴⁷

Relatedly, the decades-long struggle for the end of apartheid in South Africa was inextricably linked to the drive for peace. The Council on African Affairs (CAA), an organization committed to Black Internationalism under the leadership of Alphaeus Hunton, Paul and Eslanda Robeson, and W.E.B. Du Bois, drew upon its close relationship with the African National Congress (ANC) to expose and condemn apartheid as it became intensified in 1948 by the National Party’s Daniel François Malan. The ANC painstakingly outlined the terrorism and indignity to which the non-white majority was subjected by the European minority, including taxation without representation, the complete denial of political power, land dispossession, the virtual enslavement of workers, denial of labor rights like unionization and striking, police brutality, and the circumscription of movement. The ANC conveyed that the Malan government’s Hitler-like doctrines not only defied the United Nations Declaration of Human Rights, but also endangered international relations, stability, and security, thereby sowing the seeds of World War III.

Alongside the ANC, the CAA warned that the apartheid regime threatened international peace and harmony by intensifying racial struggle throughout Africa and fomenting the resentment of racialized people throughout the world, from Indians to African Americans. The failure of the United Nations to bring world pressure on South Africa, one CAA memorandum quoted, would force the “Negro race to rely on themselves and make ready for the liquidation of 2,000,000 South African Europeans in the life and death struggle that is to come...” Further, if Africans did not have freedom and equality, “all the races should march to mass destruction.”⁴⁸ The CAA released memoranda, pamphlets, and several issues of its newspaper, *New Africa*, to bring attention to the atrocities of apartheid; to encourage the international community to cut off business and trade relations with South Africa; and to pressure the United Nations to implement measures to end the odious system. Apartheid and world peace, the ANC and CAA intimated, were fundamentally incompatible.

The pioneering efforts of the CAA were escalated in subsequent decades, as leaders from Albert Luthuli to Julius Nyerere called for a boycott of South Africa in the 1950s; the Sharpeville Massacre of 1960 incited the formation of numerous organizations, protests, rallies, and demonstrations throughout the African Diaspora; and the Black Consciousness Movement took off in the 1970s under the leadership of “Bantu” Steve Biko

and the South African Students' Organization. In the United States, a "group of Black activists whose focus is foreign policy" led daily protests at the South African embassy in Washington D.C., which inspired the formation of the Free South Africa Movement in 1984 and ultimately led Ronald Regan to impose limited economic sanctions on South Africa the next year.⁴⁹ Insofar as apartheid encouraged anticommunism and nuclear proliferation, worked to preserve colonialism in southern Africa, and was the closest ally on the African continent of U.S. imperialism, it represented a tremendous barrier to global peace and prosperity.

Conclusion

Black Internationalism is a conceptual framework that illuminates anti-capitalist enunciations of Pan-Africanism as one facet of a broader insurgency against Euro-American domination. While its origins can be found in the interwar period, Black Internationalism reached full maturity in the context of decolonization; the Cold War; the entrenchment of United States imperialism; struggles against apartheid, and Afro-Asian, Third World, and Tricontinental attempts to forge an alternative political, economic, social, and cultural future.

As an ethical practice, an alternative epistemology, and radical praxis, Black Internationalism constitutes the rejection of white supremacy, anti-colonialism, anti-imperialism, anti-capitalism, anti-sexism, and anti-war activism. It offers a program of African flourishing based on continental unity, self-determination, revolutionary transformation, socialism, radical Black humanism, and durable peace. Activist-intellectuals such as George Padmore, Claudia Jones, W.E.B. Du Bois, Kwame Nkrumah, and Louise Thompson Patterson; organizations including the African National Congress, the Council on African Affairs, and the Sojourners for Truth and Justice; and international movements against, *inter alia*, U.S. white supremacist imperialism, the invasion of Ethiopia, and apartheid demonstrated that the liberation of African descendants was instrumental to the creation of a world in which anti-black racism, superexploitation, and militarism were obsolete. Hence, Black Internationalism encapsulates past, present, and future efforts to radically envision and manifest local, national, and global conditions of African betterment.

Notes

- 1 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury Academic, 2018), 1–5.
- 2 Margaret Stevens, *Red International and Black Caribbean: Communists in New York City, Mexico, and the West Indies, 1919–1939* (London: Pluto Press, 2017), 23.
- 3 Robin D.G. Kelley, "Stormy Weather: Reconsidering Black (Inter)Nationalism in the Cold War Era," in *Is It Nation Time? Contemporary Essays on Black Power and Black Nationalism* ed. Eddie S. Glaude (Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 2002), 67–90; Sundiata Keita Cha-Jua and Clarence Lang, "The 'Long Movement' as Vampire: Temporal and Spatial Fallacies in Recent Black Freedom Studies," *The Journal of African American History* 92, no. 2 (Spring 2007): 265–288; Roderick Bush, *The End of White World Supremacy: Black Internationalism and the Problem of the Color Line* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2009); Minkah Makalani, *In the Cause of Freedom: Black Internationalism from Harlem to London, 1917–1939* (Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 2011); Cheryl Higashida, *Black Feminist Internationalist Feminism: Women Writers of the Black Left, 1945–1995* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2011); Keisha Blain, "[F]or the Rights of Dark People in Every Part of the World": Pearl Sherrod, Black Internationalist Feminism, and Afro-Asian Politics in the 1930s," *Souls: A Critical Journal of Black Politics, Culture and Society* 17, no. 1 (June 2015): 90–112.
- 4 Frantz Fanon, *Les Damnés de la Terre*. (Paris: François Maspero, 1961).

- 5 Charisse Burden-Stelly, "W.E.B. Du Bois in the Tradition of Radical Blackness: Radicalism, Repression, and Mutual Comradeship, 1930–1960," *Socialism and Democracy* 32, no. 3 (November 2018): 181–206.
- 6 Charles Mills, "Alternative Epistemologies," *Social Theory and Practice* 14, no. 3 (Fall 1988): 237–263.
- 7 Herbert M. Hunter and Sameer Abraham, eds., *Race, Class, and the World System: The Sociology of Oliver C. Cox* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1987), 306.
- 8 James Ford, "The Negro Question: Report to the 2nd World Congress of the League Against Imperialism," *The Negro Worker* (August 1929): 1–8.
- 9 Amílcar Cabral, "National Liberation and Culture," in *Return to the Source: Selected Speeches of Amílcar Cabral* ed. Africa Information Service (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1973), 39–43.
- 10 Amy Gdala, ed. *Revolutionary Intercommunalism & the Right to Self-Determination* (Newtown: Cyhoeddwy y Superscript Ltd., 2004), 21–33.
- 11 Kwame Nkrumah, *Neo-colonialism: The Last Stage of Imperialism* (New York: International Publishers, 1965).
- 12 Walter Rodney, "Marxism and National Liberation," in *Yes to Marxism!* ed. PPP Education Committee (Georgetown: People's Progressive Party, 1986).
- 13 Carlos P. Rowas Idemulo, *The Meaning of Bandung* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1956).
- 14 Richard Wright, *The Color Curtain: A Report on the Bandung Conference* (Cleveland: World, 1956).
- 15 Paul Robeson, *Here I Stand* (London: Dennis Dobson, 1958), 54–55.
- 16 (W. A. Hunton, "For Immediate Release," June 17, 1955). Mary Metlay Kaufman Papers (MS 300), box 42, folder 8, Sophia Smith Collection, Smith College.
- 17 Gerald Horne, *The Apocalypse of Settler Colonialism: The Roots of Slavery, White Supremacy, and Capitalism in Seventeenth Century North America and the Caribbean* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2017).
- 18 John Munro, *The Anticolonial Front: The African American Freedom Struggle and Global Decolonisation, 1945–1960* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017), 48–49.
- 19 Penny Von Eschen, *Race Against Empire: Black Americans and Anticolonialism, 1937–1957* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1997), 11–17.
- 20 Kwame Nkrumah, *Revolutionary Path* (London: Panaf Books, 1967), 125–129.
- 21 Nkrumah, *Revolutionary Path*, 130–131.
- 22 ("Resolutions Adopted by the First Conference of Independent African Heads of State and Government Held in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia, from 22 to 25 May 1963," Organization of African Unity Secretariat, accessed April 10, 2019, <https://au.int/en/decisions/resolutions-adopted-assembly-heads-state-and-government-oau-22-25-May-1963>.)
- 23 Haile Selassie I, "Toward African Unity," *The Journal of Modern African Studies* 1, no. 3 (September 1963): 282.
- 24 Third International Congress of Africanists, "Resolution on the Armed Liberation Struggle in Southern Africa," n.d. Walter Rodney Papers, box 4, folder 41, Archives Research Center, Atlanta University Library Center.
- 25 Cedric Johnson, "Popular anti-imperialism to sectarianism: the African liberation support committee and black power radicals," *New Political Science* 25, no. 4 (December 2003): 478–483.
- 26 Gerald Horne, *From the Barrel of a Gun: The United States and the War Against Zimbabwe, 1965–1980* (Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 2001), 40–42.
- 27 Johnson, "Popular anti-imperialism to sectarianism," 507.
- 28 Hubert Harrison, "Socialism and the Negro," *International Socialist Review* 13 (July 1912): 65.
- 29 Stevens, *Red International and Black Caribbean*, 49–66.
- 30 Harry Haywood, *Negro Liberation* (Chicago: Liberator Press, 1976), 46–48.
- 31 William L. Patterson, ed. *We Charge Genocide: The Historic Petition to the United Nations for Relief from a Crime of the United States Government Against the Negro People* (New York: Civil Rights Congress, 1951).
- 32 Patterson, *We Charge Genocide*, 22.
- 33 Patterson, *We Charge Genocide*, xii.

- 34 Doxey A. Wilkerson, "Russia's Proposed New World Order of Socialism," *The Journal of Negro Education* 10, no. 3 (July 1941): 419.
- 35 Wilkerson, "Russia's Proposed New World Order," 414–415.
- 36 Thompson L. "Toward a Brighter Dawn." *Woman Today*, April 1936.
- 37 Marvel Cooke and Ella Baker, *The Crisis* 42, no. 11 (November 1930): 330–332.
- 38 Erik McDuffie, "Esther V. Cooper's 'The Negro Woman Domestic Worker in Relation to Trade Unionism': Black Left Feminism and the Popular Front," *Communist History* 7, No. 2 (2008): 205.
- 39 Claudia Jones, *An End to the Neglect of the Problems of the Negro Woman!* (New York: National Women's Commission CPUSA, 1949).
- 40 (Sojourners for Truth and Justice, "A Call to Negro Women for an Eastern Seaboard Conference of the Sojourners for Truth and Justice," File 66–35 Sub 264–SA, May 14, 1952. Cleveland Federal Bureau of Investigation.)
- 41 Sojourners for Truth and Justice, "A Call to Negro Women."
- 42 Gloria T. Hull, Patricia Bell Scott, and Barbara Smith, eds, *All the Women are White, All the Black are Men, But Some of Us are Brave: Black Women's Studies* (Old Westbury: The Feminist Press, 1982), 13–22.
- 43 Hull et. al, *Some of Us are Brave*, 14–16.
- 44 "(The Marcantonio–Du Bois television program," April 3, 1953, (MS 312), Special Collections and University Archives University of Massachusetts Amherst Libraries (Du Bois papers hereafter).
- 45 (W.E.B. Du Bois, "The American Labor Party," October 8, 1953, W.E.B Du Bois Papers.)
- 46 Gerald Horne, *Black and Red: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Afro-American Response to the Cold War, 1944–1963* (Albany: SUNY Press, 1985), 136–146.
- 47 Horne, *Black and Red*, 126.
- 48 (Council on African Affairs, "Memorandum on government policy and practices of racial discrimination and oppression in the Union of South Africa," July 23, 1953, Du Bois Papers.)
- 49 (Susan Rasky, "Anti-Apartheid Protest Gains Ground," *New York Times*, September 15, 1985.)

Bibliography

- Adi Hakim. *Pan-Africanism: A History*. London: Bloomsbury Academic, 2018.
- Blain Keisha. '[f]or the Rights of Dark People in Every Part of the World': Pearl Sherrod, Black Internationalist Feminism, and Afro-Asian Politics in the 1930s. *Souls: A Critical Journal of Black Politics, Culture and Society* 17, No. 1 (June 2015): 90–112.
- Burden–Stelly Charisse. W.E.B. Du Bois in the Tradition of Radical Blackness: Radicalism, Repression, and Mutual Comradeship, 1930–1960. *Socialism and Democracy* 32, No. 3 (November 2018): 181–206.
- Bush Roderick. *The End of White World Supremacy: Black Internationalism and the Problem of the Color Line*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2009.
- Cabral Amílcar. National Liberation and Culture. In *Return to the Source: Selected Speeches of Amílcar Cabral* edited by Africa Information Service, 39–43. New York: Monthly Review Press, 1973.
- Cha–Jua Sundiata Keita and Clarence Lang. The "Long Movement" as Vampire: Temporal and Spatial Fallacies in Recent Black Freedom Studies. *The Journal of African American History* 92, No. 2 (Spring 2007): 265–288.
- Council on African Affairs. *Resistance against Fascist Enslavement in South Africa*. New York: New Century Publishers, 1953.
- Du Bois W.E.B. "The American Labor Party," October 8, 1953. W.E.B Du Bois Papers (MS 312), Special Collections and University Archives University of Massachusetts Amherst Libraries.
- Fanon Frantz. *Les Damnés De La Terre*. Paris: François Maspero, 1961.
- Ford James. The Negro Question: Report to the 2nd World Congress of the League against Imperialism. *The Negro Worker* 2, No. 4 (August 1929): 1–8.
- Gdala Amy, ed. *Revolutionary Intercommunalism & the Right to Self-Determination*. Newtown: Cyhoeddwyry Superscript Ltd., 2004.
- Harrison Hubert. Socialism and the Negro. *International Socialist Review* 13 (July 1912): 65–68.
- Haywood Harry. *Negro Liberation*. Chicago: Liberator Press, 1976.
- Higashida Cheryl. *Black Feminist Internationalist Feminism: Women Writers of the Black Left, 1945–1995*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2011.

- Horne Gerald. *Black and Red: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Afro-American Response to the Cold War, 1944-1963*. Albany: SUNY Press, 1985.
- Horne Gerald. *From the Barrel of a Gun: The United States and the War against Zimbabwe, 1965-1980*. Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 2001.
- Horne Gerald. *The Apocalypse of Settler Colonialism: The Roots of Slavery, White Supremacy, and Capitalism in Seventeenth Century North American and the Caribbean*. New York: Monthly Review Press, 2017.
- Hull Gloria T., Patricia Bell Scott, and Barbara Smith. *All the Women are White, All the Black are Men, but Some of Us are Brave: Black Women's Studies*. Old Westbury: The Feminist Press, 1982.
- Hunter Herbert M. and Sameer Abraham, eds. *Race, Class, and the World System: The Sociology of Oliver C. Cox*. New York: Monthly Review Press, 1987.
- Hunton W. A. "For Immediate Release," June 17, 1955. Mary Metlay Kaufman Papers (MS 300), box 42, folder 8, Sophia Smith Collection, Smith College.
- Idemulo Carlos P. Rowas. *The Meaning of Bandung*. Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 1956.
- Johnson Cedric. Popular Anti-imperialism to Sectarianism: The African Liberation Support Committee and Black Power Radicals. *New Political Science* 25, No. 4 (December 2003): 477-507.
- Jones Claudia. *An End to the Neglect of the Problems of the Negro Woman!*. New York: National Women's Commission CPUSA, 1949.
- Kelley Robin D.G. Stormy Weather: Reconsidering Black (Inter)nationalism in the Cold War Era. In *Is It Nation Time? Contemporary Essays on Black Power and Black Nationalism* edited by Glaude Eddie S., 67-90. Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 2002.
- Makalani Minkah. *In the Cause of Freedom: Black Internationalism from Harlem to London, 1917-1939*. Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 2011.
- McDuffie Erik. Esther V. Cooper's "The Negro Woman Domestic Worker in Relation to Trade Unionism": Black Left Feminism and the Popular Front. *Communist History* 7, No. 2 (2008): 203-209.
- Mills Charles. Alternative Epistemologies. *Social Theory and Practice* 14, No. 3 (Fall 1988): 237-263.
- Munro John. *The Anticolonial Front: The African American Freedom Struggle and Global Decolonisation, 1945-1960*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017.
- Nkrumah Kwame. *Neo-colonialism: The Last Stage of Imperialism*. New York: International Publishers, 1965.
- Nkrumah Kwame. *Revolutionary Path*. London: Panaf Books, 1967.
- Organization of African Unity Secretariat. *Resolutions Adopted by the First Conference of Independent African Heads of State and Government Held in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia, from 22 to 25 May 1963*. <https://au.int/en/decisions/resolutions-adopted-assembly-heads-state-and-government-oau-22-25-may-1963>
- Rasky Susan. "Anti-Apartheid Protest Gains Ground." *New York Times*, September 15, 1985.
- Robeson Paul. *Here I Stand*. London: Dennis Dobson, 1958.
- Rodney Walter. Marxism and National Liberation. In *Yes to Marxism!* edited by the PPP Education Committee, 3-19. Georgetown: People's Progressive Party, 1986.
- Selassie I Haile. Toward African Unity. *The Journal of Modern African Studies* 1, No. 3 (September 1963): 281-291.
- Sojourners for Truth and Justice. "A Call to Negro Women for an Eastern Seaboard Conference of the Sojourners for Truth and Justice." File 66-35 Sub 264-SA, May 14, 1952. Cleveland Federal Bureau of Investigation.
- Stevens Margaret. *Red International and Black Caribbean: Communists in New York City, Mexico, and the West Indies, 1919-1939*. London: Pluto Press, 2017.
- "The Marcantonio-Du Bois television program," April 3, 1953. W.E.B Du Bois Papers (MS 312), Special Collections and University Archives University of Massachusetts Amherst Libraries.
- Third International Congress of Africanists. "Resolution on the Armed Liberation Struggle in Southern Africa," n.d. Walter Rodney Papers, box 4, folder 41, Archives Research Center, Atlanta University Library Center.
- Thompson Louise. "Toward a Brighter Dawn." *Woman Today*, April 1936.
- Von Eschen Penny. *Race against Empire: Black Americans and Anticolonialism, 1937-1957*. Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1997.
- Wilkerson Doxey A. Russia's Proposed New World Order of Socialism. *The Journal of Negro Education* 10, No. 3 (July 1941): 387-419.
- Wright Richard. *The Color Curtain: A Report on the Bandung Conference*. Cleveland: World, 1956.

Part II

Pan-Africanist theories



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Black nationalism

Jeffrey O.G. Ogbar

Black nationalism defined

Although scholars have grappled with defining the contours of nationalism, there are basic precepts that are definitive. Among these is the belief in political sovereignty and territorial independence for a people. Black nationalism, therefore, as a variant of the wider belief, adheres to these principles in its purest expressions.¹ Black nationalism emerged in the mid-19th century and endorses the creation of an independent black nation state. This form is known as ethnonationalism. It is predicated on an ethnic basis for a sovereign nation state. Examples include Serbian and Basque nationalisms in Europe, or Igbo, and Hutu nationalisms in Africa, and Sikh and Azerbaijani nationalisms in Asia.² Black nationalism is not, however, a pure form of ethnonationalism in that it is broader than an ethnic group. While it has historically organized itself around the conditions and freedom of black people in the U.S., establishing cultural, political and psychological affinities with Africa has been central to most expressions of black nationalism; therefore, it has simultaneously sought intimate linkages and solidarities with people of African descent globally.³

In its essence, black nationalism seeks territorial separatism and political sovereignty for black people. Given that a common history, culture, and language are also essential qualities to nationalist movements, black nationalism is even more aberrant in its willingness to transcend histories, cultures, and languages to strengthen the foundational characteristics of its expression of nationalism. In fact, black nationalists have been systematic in cultivating relationships—symbolic and substantive—with non-African Americans. Some have adopted names, fashion, music and even languages from ethnic groups in Africa—whether African Americans had specific ancestral ties to those groups or not. For example, the language of Kiswahili was adopted by many black nationalists during the Black Power era, although it originates from a coastal people in East Africa—far from where the ancestors of the vast majority of African Americans had originated in West and Central Africa. Africa, as the ancestral home to African Americans, figures prominently in the political, cultural, and rhetorical characteristics of black nationalism. It has consequently become a common denominator for kindred people, or what may be what Benedict Anderson has called an “imagined community” of people yoked by shared ancestry into a racialized form of a transnational, polyethnic, polyglot commonality.⁴

The privileging of race among black nationalists is a direct result of the racialized form of oppression in the US. Black nationalism, like all forms of nationalism, operates in a dialectic. Various forms of nationalism emerge as reactions to perceived *threats* to a people who conceive themselves as bound by a common *identity*. Those threats—internal and external—are usually recognized as powerful even if the demographic group that is the principle “other” is more numerous or not. Defining threat and identity are essential to any thorough definition of nationalism. In the context of black nationalism—as it is understood in the United States—those two concepts (threat and identity) have been thoroughly and extensively explored by scholars for generations.⁵

Race, not national identity, ethnicity, religion, or class determined access to full citizenship and some of its most basic privileges from municipal, state, federal jobs, education, civil service employment, the voting rights, jury service, health care, housing and the fundamentals of justice for most of the history of the United States. Even maligned European immigrants through the early 20th century were always legally recognized as white with access to voting, military careers, housing, and resources explicitly reserved for whites only.⁶ Given the degree to which race dictated how democracy and freedom could be accessed in the US, it has also evolved to define black nationalism. For most of the country’s history, anyone defined as black in the U.S. was immediately denied access to full citizenship. One’s nationality or ethnicity—Jamaican, Cuban, Brazilian, Yoruba, Hausa or Mandinka—did not make a distinction between the right to access home loans in whites-only areas, or secure health care in whites-only hospitals. Race, rather than a more narrow ethnicity, therefore, emerged in the rhetoric of most expressions of black nationalism, making its boundaries broad and inclusive in ways that defy conventional ethnonationalism. While any black person—regardless of national origin—could join an organization like the Nation of Islam, any random white person from Russia or Finland would not be expected to be active in a Basque or Irish nationalist organization.

Of course, no ideology emerges out of a vacuum. Each is influenced by others in a constantly dynamic exchange of thought, which is also affected by the shifting material circumstances of time and place. Across the span of the centuries, various forms of black nationalism have developed in the United States and elsewhere. They have influenced and have been influenced by a range of beliefs.

Although black nationalism demands black self-determination, and territorial separatism and sovereignty, all major exponents of the belief in the United States have been willing to forge provisional expressions of black nationalism until the realization of its fullest expression. To that end, nationalists have supported the development of social, religious, economic, and cultural institutions for, and by black people. From this, one witnesses various specific types of nationalism in the typography of the system. Some activists have been self-defined cultural nationalists, while others have distinguished themselves as revolutionary nationalists, with distinct political emphases. The earliest expressions of mature black nationalism were emigrationist in form, although earlier permutations of nationalism were manifest among enslaved Africans who simply escaped bondage to establish all-black enclaves on the periphery of white society.

Outlayers/maroons

The inchoate formations of black nationalism originate in the enslavement and transportation of Africans to the Americas. Although they were not ideologically mature systems of beliefs, the fundamental push for black self-determination and autonomy emerges from the 16th

century. Various groups of Africans, who felt no particular organic connection as “black” people, were forced into a new racialized identity in an incredibly brutal and dehumanizing process of enslavement. The transportation and forced amalgamation of hundreds of different African nationalities resulted in creolized communities of Africans in the Americas. Throughout the Americas, enslaved Africans revolted and established new societies, which functioned as autonomous areas of free Africans on the outskirts of European-controlled towns and cities. By design, they were locked into conflict with the surrounding European-controlled authorities, which sought their destruction and re-enslavement of the inhabitants. Known by various names, including *cimmarrons*, maroons, and, in the United States, Outlayers or Geechie, these groups were largely subsistence farmers who sometimes raided white farms, liberated enslaved Africans and intermixed with indigenous peoples. Largely by default, these societies embraced the fundamental tenets of black nationalism: armed self-defense, self-determination, and territorial separatism. Communities of North American Outlayers were found in Louisiana, Virginia, and Florida, among other places. None would be as large, or powerful as the Maroons in Jamaica or Palmares in Brazil. Maroons also participated in the successful insurrection against enslavers in the Haitian Revolution (1794–1803), which resulted in the first black republic in the western hemisphere. The most successful group of Outlayers in the United States was the group of escaped Africans who insinuated themselves into the Seminole Indian nation in Florida. After a series of wars with the U.S. military in the early 19th century, many of the Africans remained in Florida rather than be enslaved or removed to Indian Territory.⁷

The first inchoate expressions of institutionalized black self-determination found among free blacks in the U.S. developed in the late 18th century. By the Revolutionary Era African Americans were developing relatively large free communities in U.S. cities. Denied access to white churches, schools, and social organizations, black people created their own organizations. Though the principle of self-determination was the axiomatic driver to these efforts, it is incorrect, however, to call these efforts nationalistic. Like Africans who escaped slavery into autonomous communities, they were by default black-controlled spaces. Most African Americans actually expressed little desire to establish a black nation-state or move to Africa. Black leadership in this era dominantly sought to secure rights and resources for black people where they were, although some were willing to consider leaving the United States in pursuit of freedom.

Emigrationism

Paul Cuffe, a wealthy black shipbuilder in early 19th century Massachusetts, endorsed the belief that many black people would enjoy a better life in Africa than the U.S. This was the earliest organized expression of emigrationism in the country. Working with the American Colonization Society (ACS), Cuffe helped send African Americans to Africa. Many ACS founders believed that free black people were dangerous to the stability of the country. They argued that free blacks could encourage unrest among the enslaved people or that free blacks were simply not wanted among whites. The ACS and Cuffe’s activities were not examples of fully developed black nationalism, which require black self-determination and sovereignty, not directions and leadership from racist whites.

Increasingly, anti-black legislation preventing black people from voting, attending schools, getting jobs, housing or basic protections before the law fomented cynicism among African Americans. In 1829 David Walker published his *Appeal*, which implied that black armed resistance could destroy white America if racial oppression was not abated. His *Appeal* also

suggested that America could be the most powerful nation on earth if whites and blacks were united in common purpose and mutual humanity.⁸ It was not, therefore, nationalistic in the strict sense. It was, however, an early written expression of a core nationalist belief of black self-defense and racial pride. Two years later, an enslaved Baptist minister in Southampton County, Virginia led the most well-known slave insurrection in U.S. history. “Prophet” Nat Turner galvanized enslaved people around the belief that God spoke to him through visions of [good] black spirits engaged in battle against [evil] white spirits. According to Turner, God wanted “His people” freed from bondage against the “Serpent” enslaver. Though an iconic act of resistance to slavery, this revolt was organized around an embryonic form of religious black nationalism. Black people were the center of Turner’s chiliastic prophesy of rebellion and liberation against an un-Christian force of oppression.⁹ It was not until Martin R. Delany, that a mature, explicit endorsement of black nationalism is found among the written work of African Americans.

Its earliest expressions in an organized and explicit fashion are found in the work of Martin R. Delany, an abolitionist from the 19th century who grew pessimistic of the prospect that the United States would ever live up to its ideals and be a free and democratic country. Instead, black people, he argued, would be best served by establishing their own black nation in West Africa. A journalist for abolitionist Frederick Douglass’ *North Star*, Delany broke with Douglass over the issue of emigration. Delany, born free in Virginia, experienced bitter racism and grew intolerant with the belief that whites could be collectively convinced to be fair and just. Unable to entertain emigration to mostly white Canada, Delany recommended South or Central America as possible homes for African Americans in his 1852 book *The Condition, Elevation, Emigration, and Destiny of the Colored People of the United States, Politically Considered*. Delany later insisted on black people creating a nation in Africa, but separate from the auspices of the white-controlled ACS. He visited Africa in 1859 where he established a treaty with local African leaders in what is now Nigeria. Not only did Delany support a black nation state as essential to black liberation, he extolled the first explicit celebration of cultural nationalism found among African American leaders. He donned African clothing upon his return to America in an attempt to refute racist assumptions of African savagery. He declared his pride in being of African ancestry and refuted racist histories that argued that African history was little more than barbarism and darkness. His return from Africa coincided with the beginning of the U.S. Civil War in 1861, which convinced Delany to reconsider his nationalist politics in hope that the war could result in the abolition of slavery. He enlisted in the Union army, becoming a Major, and the highest ranked black person in the armed forces. Following the Civil War, the decline of Reconstruction and the rise of white supremacist laws, Delany once again endorsed black nationalism, even working in alliance with white supremacists who insisted on removing black people from the country.¹⁰

What marked Delany as different from many of his contemporaries was his celebration of black pride, black self-determination, and deep distrust in white people. Still, he embraced America’s dominant, hierarchal, notions of culture, which pedestalized Western values over African ones. Delany developed incongruent messages that, on the one hand, stressed that the historic glory of Africa had been denied by Europeans to reinforce white supremacy, while, insisting that it was necessary for African Americans to “regenerate” Africa “morally, religiously, socially, politically, and commercially” with Western values. There were other emigrationists who intersected with Delany on fundamental issues.

Most black nationalists deep into the 20th century insisted that Africans in the diaspora had crucial skills—or were simply “civilized”—and had a duty to establish links to their

“despoiled” people in Africa. Late 19th century black nationalists Alexander Crummell and Edward Wilmont Blyden argued that Africans were incapable of producing the technology necessary to develop without values and resources from the West. In fact, it was necessary to evoke a cultural rebirth in Africa, according to these emigrationist-nationalists.

Pan-Africanism

By the turn of the century a new expression of black self-determination developed under the term “Pan-Africanism.” Not as concerned with moving blacks in the diaspora to Africa, it was originally concerned about resisting racial subjugation where black people lived. In 1900 Trinidadian Henry Sylvester Williams organized a Pan-African Conference in London, which assembled representatives from the three independent black states of Haiti, Ethiopia, and Liberia, as well as colonized countries and the U.S. Among the participants from the U.S. was William Edward Burghardt Du Bois, an emerging activist-scholar. Pan-Africanism, as articulated by its earliest exponents, was not nationalist but insisted on worldwide liberation of black people and the international solidarity of people of African descent. The fusion of Pan-Africanism’s international politics and black nationalism’s territorial separatism would be found in the Universal Negro Improvement Association, which emerged in the 1920s as the largest mass movement of black people.

Marcus Garvey established the Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) in 1914 in Jamaica. The UNIA was incorporated in the U.S. in 1918, two years after its founder immigrated. Predicated upon a mix of militant black nationalism and nationalist precepts of self-reliance, Garvey created a massive organization headquartered in Harlem but extending to forty-one countries and including millions of members. Garvey’s aim to “civilize the backward tribes of Africa” was yet another example of the 19th century nationalist civilizing mission. Like his predecessors, he was a Christian; however, the Christianity that Garvey endorsed was a more counterhegemonic version that replaced European-looking images of divinities with African ones in churches and homes. The African Orthodox Church, headed by Archbishop George Alexander McGuire, affiliated with the UNIA and advocated a black God for black people.¹¹

Garveyism appealed to huge swathes of the African diaspora and the continent. In the US, the UNIA’s grocery stores, apartment buildings, cleaners, the militarized African Legion and Black Cross Nurses, and the most widely read black newspaper in history, *The Negro World*, made the UNIA incredibly visible and attractive to many. Its adoption of the red, black and green tri-color flag in 1920 introduced a new nationalist flag to the black world and has remained the iconic expression of black nationalism, even influencing the formation of flags for emerging African countries of the 1960s. The UNIA employed, advocated for, and celebrated the history and sanctity of black life in ways that people had never seen. Too, it provided for important psychological space to vent at the pressing force of white supremacy. Garvey articulated the distrust that many blacks had of white-controlled institutions, warning against involvement with any white people who appeared to be friends of blacks. Though he did not believe in innate racial difference, the white liberal, according to Garvey, was just as prone to join a lynch mob as a Georgia Klansman.

Many African American leaders joined with radicals such as black communists to denounce Garvey for allowing KKK members to speak at UNIA meetings, encouraging blacks to leave the white man’s country. With the support of Du Bois, and others, the federal government arrested Garvey on mail fraud charges and sentenced him to prison in 1925. He was released and deported with a reduced sentence in 1927.

Black radicalism

The African Blood Brotherhood, founded by black leftists in Harlem after World War I, was a product of the “New Negro” defiance of the era and the general radical politics that circulated in New York City. Although at times referred to as “nationalist” the organization did not demand a separate black nation state or denounce the possibility of white and black confraternity. Created in 1919 by Cyril Briggs, a Communist and journalist, the ABB was composed of men from throughout the United States, many of whom served in World War I. Many others were Caribbean-born radicals who flirted with the UNIA, Socialist Workers Party, or the Communist Party. They embraced self-defense and were sensitive to the need to collaborate with radicalized whites. The members of the Brotherhood considered their semi-clandestine, para-military organization the “Pan-African Army” of the black world. Membership ranged from three to five thousand at its height. Briggs’ monthly magazine, *The Crusader*, became the official organ of the ABB and reached a peak circulation of 33,000. The group was represented in fifty branches, including Chicago, Baltimore, Oklahoma, West Virginia, Africa, and the West Indies. The ABB utilized a Marxist class analysis that emphasized working-class consciousness. It is, in fact, the first significant fusion of Marxism, black nationalism, and Pan-Africanism, making it a revolutionary nationalist organization. While its rhetoric regarding mass culture is largely unknown, it is clear that the ABB did not denounce black folk culture in the same ways, as had most nationalists. Heightening class consciousness, mobilizing workers, establishing alliances with radicalized whites and “small oppressed nations” were the chief concerns of the ABB. Furthermore, it embraced notions of uplift, self-determination, military efficiency and other ideals celebrated by nationalists.¹²

A number of largely local black nationalist organizations functioned in various capacities in the years between WWI and the emergence of the 1950s modern civil rights movement. Noble Drew Ali established the Moorish Science Temple of America in 1913. The MSTA insisted that people of African descent in America were properly “Moors,” not to be called colored, Negro, black or African. Though not adherents of any orthodox form of Islam, they considered themselves Muslims. Members attached “El” or “Bey” to their surnames to represent their proper identity. Building upon the momentum of the UNIA and the appeal of Garvey, Ali insisted that Garvey was an ideological kindred spirit to the MSTA. Spreading from Newark, to Pittsburgh, Detroit and Chicago, the organization required “clean living” among its members. Like all forms of black religious nationalism, the MSTA demanded that black people be at the center of their own spiritual analysis and synthesis.

A number of other nationalists found inspiration from the UNIA; few, however, would be national in scope. Harlem, the former headquarters of the UNIA, became a hotbed of black nationalist activity in the years following the deportation of Marcus Garvey. Former UNIA member Carlos Cooks established the African Nationalist Pioneer Movement and organized “Buy Black” campaigns in New York, boycotts and the development of armed defense against white terrorists. Eddie “Porkchop” Davis, Audrey “Queen Mother” Moore, Charles Kenyatta, Major Thornhill, Oba O. Adefumi, Robert Harris, and others were some of the many local nationalists in New York in the 1940–1960s.

Black religious nationalism

By the mid-1950s the modern civil rights movement introduced a new language and practice of mass mobilization of African Americans. The challenge for nationalists to successfully appeal to the mass of African Americans remained the same in some regards, while drastically

changing in other ways. A massive movement of black people was underway by the late 1950s. In fact, it was the rise of the civil rights movement that proved to be the greatest recruiting tool for the Nation of Islam, which functioned with relatively small Temples in Midwestern and Northeastern cities until the late 1950s.

Formed by a mysterious and itinerant peddler, W.D. Fard Muhammad, in Detroit in 1930, the Nation built upon the legacies of the UNIA and the MSTA by developing various institutions, including businesses, farms, and schools. Like the UNIA, it also extolled territorial separatism, racial pride and religious nationalism. Similar to the MSTA, it insisted on a spiritual renewal and a new identity as Muslims, complete with new names. Unlike either organization, however, the NOI insisted on the absolute, organic devilry of whites.

Led by Elijah Muhammad from 1934 until his death in 1975, the Nation of Islam called for a complete separation from white people and the establishment of an independent black nation-state either in North America or Africa. Whites were, according to the NOI, genetic mutants who were evil by design and could not be expected to be fair, just or anything other than evil. They were believed to have lived in the caves of the Caucasus Mountains where they lived on all fours and developed amorous relations with canines. In fact, dogs are the “closest relatives to the white man,” argued the Nation. That is why modern white men refer to the dog as their “best friend.” The Nation had done what no major national organization had. It formulated a belief system that systematically undermined white supremacy in absolute form by declaring whiteness a biological, innate evil. It openly ridiculed whites as inferior, crude, vicious and beast-like. Calling whites “pale things,” “dogs,” “crackers,” and “devils,” the discourse among black nationalists had taken a bold turn to meet some of the deep psychological consequences of being black in a virulently anti-black country. It de-pedestalized whites, while building up black people. Moreover, the Nation was distinct from other nationalist groups in its belief in integration. It, in fact, supported integration with Asians, Native Americans, and all other people of color, who were considered “black.” In essence, it was not integration, but unification with an organic community of black people who had been divided by a common enemy.¹³

By 1959 Malcolm X was the prominent national spokesman for the Nation. Deconstructing the word “Negro,” Malcolm taught audiences that the proper term for the people was “black.” Additionally, a Negro was one who was ignorant, shiftless, deaf, dumb and “blind.” The most interviewed black person in America in 1962, Malcolm’s militancy, vitriol, and message could not be ignored by white or black people. Even civil rights activists were affected, some moving closer to black nationalism as the black freedom movement progressed.

Black power

At the center of this ideological evolution was the Student Nonviolent Coordinating Committee (SNCC). Founded in 1960 by student activists, SNCC was closely affiliated with the older Southern Christian Leadership Conference (SCLC), led by Martin Luther King, Jr. King, the most prominent leader of the civil rights movement, was an adamant defender of the movement’s popular notion of non-violence and racial reconciliation. A new variant of black nationalism, known as “Black Power” developed among activists in 1966. The term meant many things to different people; however, it fundamentally demanded the empowerment of black people politically, socially, economically, and otherwise. Although it did not require territorial separatism like the UNIA or NOI, it insisted on black pride, self-

determination, self-defense and dignity. Like Pan-Africanism, the term was not synonymous with black nationalism, but it resonated with it and complemented it.

It was a 1966 march, led by the Congress for Racial Equality, the SCLC and SNCC, where the fissure between the traditional civil rights rhetoric and the language and ideas of Black Power was crystallized. SNCC chairman Stokely Carmichael told a crowd of supporters that black people should stand up and demand "Black Power" throughout the state and country. The following night Willie Ricks, a leading SNCC organizer, galvanized the crowd and, in his typical charismatic fashion, declared that black people must demand Black Power.

Most certainly, the popularization of the phrase Black Power evoked considerable trepidation among mainstream civil rights activists. The term, to many, implied anti-white violence that would tear the movement asunder. In vain King tried to dissuade the crowd from using what he considered a divisive phrase. For him, the call for Black Power was immediately portentous. He condemned it as "unfortunate because it tends to give the impression of black nationalism."¹⁴

Black militants and nationalists throughout the country who were frustrated by what they considered the tragic failure of non-violent integration and continued racist aggression welcomed the call for Black Power. For King, black nationalism and Black Power were part and parcel of a "nihilistic philosophy born out of the conviction that the Negro can't win. It is, at bottom, the view that American society is so hopelessly corrupt and enmeshed in evil that there is no possibility of salvation from within." Carmichael, however, asserted that Black Power was the proper articulation of the needs of the masses of black people. "Black power," Carmichael explained, "is a call for black people to begin to define their own goals, to lead their own organizations and to support those organizations. It is a call to reject the racist institutions and values of this society."¹⁵ The Lowndes County, Alabama Freedom Organization (LCFO) was a true manifestation of this idea, he claimed. Its mascot, the Black Panther, evoked a nickname for the group, the Black Panther Party.

Nationwide scores of organizations emerged that viewed themselves as Black Power groups. Several adopted the name from the mascot of LCFO: Black Panther Party. There were independent organizations with this name in New York, Chicago, Los Angeles, Oakland and San Francisco. There was the Us organization in Los Angeles, the Congress of African People in Newark, the Republic of New Africa and the Dodge Revolutionary Union Movement of black workers in Michigan. Other nationalist groups included the Shrine of the Black Madonna, formed by Rev. Albert Cleage in Detroit, the African Descendants Independence Party, formed in Philadelphia, and the Afro-American Association, formed by Donald Freeman in the California Bay Area.

Black Power also precipitated an unprecedented expression of black art, scholarship, political activism, professional organization and intellectual discourse. Poets, writers and other intellectuals, such as Larry Neal, Robert Chrisman, Askia Toure, Sonia Sanchez, Haki Madhubuti, Amiri Baraka, Robert L. Allen, John Henrik Clark, James Turner, and Nikki Giovanni constructed new discourses that reflected the impulse of Black Power. Us founder and leading cultural nationalist Maulana Karenga developed a new celebration: Kwanzaa. Advocates on college campuses demanded black studies programs, black cultural centers and hiring of black faculty and staff from white universities long hostile to hiring people of color. In music, James Brown, Curtis Mayfield, Donald Byrd, and the Last Poets demonstrated the musical contours of Black Power.¹⁶ Black professionals with unprecedented access to white professional associations created new black associations of sociologists, political scientists, social workers, journalists, police officers, and engineers. Fashion and language were

altered by Black Power. Stemming from the Nation of Islam's rejection of the word Negro and embrace of black, the Black Power movement helped retire the term "Negro" in the Anglophone world as a reference to people of African descent.

The international connections with Black Power were complex and many. Julian Mayfield, an African American, joined the expatriate community of African Americans in Ghana (which had also included Du Bois and his wife) and worked as a communications aide to Ghanaian president Kwame Nkrumah from 1962–1966. Though working in Ghana before the Black Power movement, Mayfield remained connected to the African American community and embraced the new slogan, as it spread through the black world. From 1971–1975, Mayfield worked as an adviser to Forbes Burnum, the Prime Minister of Guyana, home to Black Power radical Walter Rodney. Newly independent countries in the Caribbean struggled over the new direction of Black Power, which tended to lean toward leftist, anti-imperialist and anti-capitalist politics. In Trinidad, Jamaica, and Barbados, political elites attempted to marginalize Black Power advocates. Rodney was assassinated in Guyana after he was banned from Jamaica, where he taught as a professor.¹⁷ Anti-Apartheid student leader Steve Biko in South Africa was similarly affected by the slogan. He was killed by police in South Africa in 1977. Like these countries, black radicals witnessed considerable state repression in the U.S. No group experienced the international attention or level of state repression as the Black Panther Party of Oakland, California.

The Black Panther Party began as a nationalist organization in 1966 but by late 1968 adopted a Marxist-Leninist ideological framework that considered black nationalism problematic. Black nationalism did not adequately consider the role that class played to bolster bourgeois control of economic markets for a particular black ruling elite, Panthers insisted. The BPP, a self-described revolutionary nationalist organization, called for a United Nations-supervised plebiscite so black people could vote on whether to separate from the United States. It, therefore, stopped short of demanding the territorial separatism of traditional nationalists. The Party argued that if black people were ceded land for an independent black nation-state in North America, that new country (and the world) would remain under constant threat of U.S. imperialism. Vietnam was several thousand miles away, but never too far for U.S. war planes and their bombs. The oppressive apparatus had to be destroyed, not simply placed at a distance.¹⁸

Ultimately, the BPP forged a *sui generis* form of nationalism, *radical ethnic nationalism*. The BPP identified the three evils of capitalism, imperialism, and racism as universal enemies for revolutionaries. But, the Panthers reasoned, until capitalism was destroyed race and its consequences were very real. It was imperative, therefore, for black people to work in black communities for black self-determination. The Panthers created a revolutionary nationalism that was highly derivative but also suffused with the social criticism and intellectual contributions of co-founders Huey Newton, Bobby Seale, and others like Eldridge Cleaver, Minister of Information.¹⁹

Though there were no white members, some Latino and Asian members were active from its earliest years. Importantly, radical ethnic nationalists emerged in other communities of color, forging organizations modeled after the Panthers and aligned with them. These include the [Chicano] Brown Berets, the [Puerto Rican] Young Lord Party, the Asian American Hardcore, Yellow Brotherhood, American Indian Movement and even groups outside of the US, like the Polynesian Panther Party, the [Sephardic] Black Panthers in Israel and the Dalit Black Panthers in India. In these organizations, ethnicity was central to radical organization, but racial or ethnic chauvinism was simultaneously rejected. Systems and the ideologies that animated them were primary targets, not an ethnic or racial group.²⁰ Yes, as

noted, those same systems created spaces where ethnicity was so powerful that it required radicals to mobilize under its banner.

The Party created a series of survival programs, including free breakfast, food giveaways, and free medical care to poor black communities. Between 1968 and 1970 the Panthers also had a series of shootouts and police raids. J. Edgar Hoover, the notorious director of the F. B.I. called the Panthers the “greatest threat to national security” and unleashed a massive campaign to disrupt, destabilize, and destroy the Party, as well as other black nationalist groups. By 1971 over twenty members of the Party had been killed.

Modern black nationalism

By 1975 the Black Power movement was in retreat in its most activist form. Nationalist organizations like the Nation of Islam, Congress of African People, the Black Panther Party, Republic of New Africa, and Us were in decline. Many leaders had been jailed, killed or exiled. Throughout the 1970s a growing black middle class, the rise of black publicly-elected officials and decrease in the most explicit manifestations of white supremacy converged to develop hopeful times for many black people. The increase in poverty, the illicit drug trade and spiraling crime rates in the late 1980s, however, precipitated renewed sense of alarm among many African Americans.

The Nation of Islam, under the leadership of Minister Louis Farrakhan, tapped into the new mood of cynicism and anger. Farrakhan spoke to black audiences across the country about the need for black people to live responsible lives, free of drugs, alcohol, gambling, welfare, or irresponsible diets. His message of personal responsibility and industriousness resonated with classic black nationalist values, which were not particularly different from African American core cultural values, making his appeal powerful. And unlike political conservatives who had begun to coop the idea of “personal responsibility,” the Nation offered a vitriolic attack on the institutionalized nature of white supremacy. Calling whites “devils,” “crackers,” and other racial pejoratives, the Nation generated considerable hostility from the mainstream media and black intellectuals alike. The organization still grew in visibility and resources as the attacks against it increased. The NOI provided security for high crime public housing projects nationwide, reducing crime precipitously in most cases. Long-time supporters of capitalist enterprise, the Nation expanded its business empire, employing many poor and working class people, while looking outward in ways that the organization had never. In fact, it endorsed voting for the first time when Jesse Jackson ran for the presidential nomination of the Democratic Party in 1984. Despite the accusations that the organization was racist, sexist, and homophobic, it continued to expand its appeal, culminating in the organization of the largest gathering of black people in history, the Million Man March in 1995. In 1998 the Nation became the only known Muslim body in the world to allow women to serve as Imams or ministers. During the civil war in Yugoslavia Farrakhan publicly recognized white Muslims, officiated white-black marriages at the Million Family March in 2000, demonstrating that he was ideologically dynamic and willing to insist on “black unity.”²¹

Ultimately, the landscape of the United States is indelibly marked by the efforts of black nationalists in their many variants. The legacies of Black Power are ubiquitous. Groups like the National Black United Front, Prisoners of Conscious Committee, and New Afrikan Peoples Organization are some of many black nationalist groups that maintain grassroots campaigns. From reparations to attention to the poor, and the prison industrial complex,

nationalists' concerns often intersect with other groups, granting them continued visibility and voice to a large segment of the black community.

Notes

- 1 Note that in this essay, the term “black nationalism” exclusively refers to the activities centered in the United States, despite whatever connections that any U.S.-based nationalist organization may have beyond the borders.
- 2 Timothy Baycroft, *Nationalism in Europe 1789–1945* (New York, 1998), 56; Jerry Z. Muller, “Us and Them,” *Current Issue* 501 (Mar/Apr 2008): 9–14. For more information on ethnonationalism, see Anthony D. Smith, *The Nation in History: Historiographical Debates about Ethnicity and Nationalism* (Hanover, 2000).
- 3 For explorations on black nationalism, see E. U. Essien-Udom’s classic study of the Nation of Islam, *Black Nationalism: A Search for Identity in America* (Chicago, 1962), Wilson J. Moses, *On the Wings of Ethiopia: Studies in African American Life and Letters*, (Ames, 1991), William Van De Burg, ed. *Modern Black Nationalism: From Marcus Garvey to Louis Farrakhan* (New York, 1996); Wilson J. Moses, *The Golden Age of Black Nationalism, 1850–1925* (New York, 1988), Wilson J. Moses, *Classical Black Nationalism: From the American Revolution to Marcus Garvey* (New York, 1996).
- 4 Benedict Anderson, *Imagined Communities: Reflections on the Origins and Spread of Nationalism* (Verso, 2016), 6.
- 5 For the role of race or the “Other” in nationalist movements, see Walker Connor, *Ethnonationalism* (Princeton, 1993); Ernest Gellner, *Nations and Nationalism* (Ithaca, 2009); John Hutchinson and Anthony D. Smith, eds. *Nationalism* (New York, 1995); Eric Hobsbawm, *Nations and Nationalism Since 1780, Programme, Myth, Reality* (New York, 2012); Albert Memmi, *The Colonizer and the Colonized* (Boston, 1991).
- 6 Richard Rothstein, *The Color of Law: A Forgotten History of How our Government Segregated America* (New York, 2018); Ira Katznelson, *When Affirmative Action was White: An Untold History of Racial Inequality in 20th Century America*, (New York, 2005); Douglas A. Blackmon, *Slavery by Another Name: The Re-Enslavement of Black Americans from the Civil War to World War II* (New York, 2008).
- 7 Sylviane A. Diouf, *Slavery’s Exiles: The Story of the American Maroons* (New York, 2016), 79–84, 171–177, 213–215, 309; Richard Price, *Maroon Societies: Rebel Slave Communities in the Americas* (Garden City, 1973), 21–26.
- 8 “David Walker,” *Dictionary of North Carolina Biography*, edited by William S. Powell. (Chapel Hill, 1979).
- 9 Jeffrey Ogbonna Green Ogbar, “Prophet Nat and God’s Children of Darkness: Black Religious Nationalism.” *Journal of Religious Thought* 53 (1997): 51–52.
- 10 Frank A. Rollins, *Life and Public Services of Martin R. Delany*, (New York, 1969), 14–17
- 11 Tony Martin, “McGuire, George Alexander.” *Encyclopedia of the Harlem Renaissance*. Volume 2. Cary D. Wintz, Paul Finkelman (Eds.). (Taylor & Francis, 2004), 776.
- 12 Winston James, “Being Red and Black in Jim Crow America: Notes on the Ideology and Travails of Afro-America’s Socialist Pioneers, 1877–1930,” *Souls* 2, no. 4 (fall 1999): 54–55.
- 13 Mattias Gardell, *In The Name of Elijah Muhammad: Louis Farrakhan and the Nation of Islam* (Durham, 1996), 16–38; Jeffrey O. G. Ogbar, *Black Power: Radical Politics and African American Identity* (Baltimore, 2019), 13–35.
- 14 Ogbar, *Black Power*, 75–78.
- 15 Stokely Carmichael and Charles Hamilton, *Black Power: The Politics of Liberation in America* (New York, 1967), 41.
- 16 For a thorough exploration of the role of art in this era, see James Smethurst, *The Black Arts Movement: Literary Nationalism in the 1960s and 1970s* (Durham, 2005).
- 17 For black power’s international spread, see Seth M. Markle, *A Motorcycle on Hell Run: Tanzania, Black Power, and the Uncertain Future of Pan-Africanism, 1964–1974* (Lansing, 2017); Quito Swan, *Black Power in Bermuda: The Struggle for Decolonization* (New York, 2009); Monique A. Bedasse, *Jah Kingdom: Rastafarians, Tanzania, and Pan-Africanism in the Age of Decolonization* (Chapel Hill, 2016).
- 18 For a discussion of socialism and nationalism, see J. J. Schwarzmantel, “Class and Nation: Problems of Socialist Nationalism,” *Political Studies*, 35 no. 2 (1987):239–255.

- 19 Robyn C. Spencer, *The Revolution Has Come: Black Power, Gender, and the Black Panther Party in Oakland*, (Durham, 2016), 38–62; Joshua Bloom and Waldo E. Martin, Jr. *Black Against Empire: The History and Politics of the Black Panther Party*, (Berkeley, 2013), 139–168.
- 20 Ogbar, *Black Power*, 159–189.
- 21 Dawn-Marie Gibson, *Women of the Nation: Between Black Protest and Sunni Islam*, (New York, 2014), 38, 182–183. Ogbar, *Black Power*, 204.

Neo-colonialism, Nkrumah and Africa-Europe ties

Mark Langan

Introduction

Neo-colonialism is a contested but highly relevant concept for making sense of North-South relations in the twenty-first century. Primarily associated with the work of Kwame Nkrumah (1965), the first President of an independent Ghana, the concept points to the ongoing economic and political domination of nominally independent developing countries by external powers. In the case of Nkrumah (1965), this clearly highlighted the dangers for legally independent African states in the immediate advent of decolonization, and beyond. African countries in the sway of neo-colonialism would enjoy what Julius Nyerere (Nkrumah's Tanzanian counterpart) termed a mere "flag independence." They would enjoy legal recognition and thus *de jure* sovereignty in terms of the Westphalian international system of states (Langan 2017, 10). For example, they would obtain a seat in the United Nations (UN) General Assembly. However, their economic systems and political decision-making processes would continue to be determined by outside interests. Decolonization in Africa, if perverted by neo-colonialism, thus would become a hollow entity, only to be meaningfully completed in full once neo-colonial forces – and the African elites in their sway – had been overcome.

In historical terms, this concept came to reflect Nkrumah's – and that of other notable contemporaries such as Frantz Fanon (1961) and Sekou Touré (1962) – belief that European former colonial powers (in particular) would not willingly divest from lucrative African economies. Nor would they allow newly independent governments to exercise genuinely autonomous political programmes – especially in terms of foreign policy in the context of the Cold War. Witnessing the downfall of Patrice Lumumba in the Democratic Republic of the Congo (DRC) – with the USA and Belgium utilizing separatist forces in Katanga as an instrument of influence – had an especially marked effect upon the outlook of leading African politicians and intellectuals in the early 1960s. Notably, the fall of Lumumba heavily influenced and coincided with the publication of Frantz Fanon's *The Wretched of the Earth* (1961 – the same year as Lumumba's death). The publication of Nkrumah's own key text *Neo-Colonialism: The Last Stage of Imperialism* in 1965 also reflected his analysis of those recent events, namely the Katanga separatist crisis in the DRC. Nkrumah himself later faced being overthrown in a USA-backed coup d'état in 1966.

In this context, the chapter examines the claims made by Nkrumah (1965) and his diagnosis of the strategies and functioning of neo-colonial forms of relations between African polities and external powers. This focuses upon his concerns surrounding the role of aid monies and foreign investment in subverting genuine empirical sovereignty. Moreover, how aid involved and facilitated the appropriation of economic resources as well as the adjacent co-optation of African political leaderships. It then demonstrates the ongoing relevance of the concept of neo-colonialism for making sense of current-day controversies associated with “development” in the African continent. Specifically, it focuses upon the European Union (EU)’s securitization of its “development” policies in Africa vis-à-vis so-called “failed states” and migration flows. It demonstrates that Nkrumah’s concerns regarding the subversion of African elites via aid monies (and indeed military interventions in the case of the Sahel) remain relevant to the analysis of Africa-EU ties today. Finally, the chapter concludes with a reiteration of the key claims of Nkrumah regarding the operation of neo-colonial forms of North-South relations. It also reflects on Nkrumah’s discussion of the potential solutions to the problem of neo-colonialism, namely contemporary possibilities for pan-African strategies aimed at overcoming neo-colonial influence and relationships.

Neo-colonialism as concept, and as form of North-South relations

Nkrumah’s (1965) key text *Neo-Colonialism: The Last Stage of Imperialism* provides a searing account of his concerns regarding the actions of Western powers (in particular) in denuding a genuine, empirical sovereignty in newly independent African countries. Having fought against colonial forces to obtain Ghanaian independence – the first African state to formally overthrow colonial rule – in 1957, Nkrumah remained wary of the motivations of the former colonial powers in London and Paris, as well as the intentions of the USA in the Cold War period. Coinciding with his efforts as part of the Casablanca Group of African states to achieve a federation of African polities within a Union of African States, Nkrumah’s text chiefly warned of the dangers that individual, isolated African countries would face in the immediate period of decolonization (c.f. Ndlovu-Gatsheni 2013, 69–70). In historical terms, meanwhile, the publication of his text in 1965 did much to sour already tense relations between his government in Accra and that of Western powers. It is not a coincidence that Nkrumah was deposed the following year in a USA-backed military coup d’état.

In terms of the practice and operation of neo-colonial relationships between external powers and African countries, meanwhile, Nkrumah (1965) articulately identified the hazards of aid-giving for the empirical sovereignty of newly independent countries. He warned that aid (for the most part) was not a benevolent or disinterested humanitarian gesture on the part of external nations, inspired by a genuine concern for the condition of African populations. Rather aid was a device utilized by foreign countries to gain leverage over domestic African elites, and to co-opt African politicians into serving the political interests of outside interests. Aid therefore was a corrupting mechanism – used to gain African leaders’ acquiescence to economic and political alliances – even if such relations were to the detriment of their own countries’ longer-term economic growth or to their polities’ genuine political sovereignty. In clear terms, Nkrumah (1965, ix) wrote that:

Control over government policy in the neo-colonial state may be secured by payments towards the costs of running the state, by the provision of civil servants in positions where they can dictate policy, and by monetary control over foreign exchange through the imposition of a banking system controlled by the imperialist power

(1965, xi)

Aid monies, in this context, would in fact accrue even greater profits and finances for the external power in question. That is, the external aid-giver would more than recoup their initial expenditure in terms of aid, since those monies would help to lock-in African polities into subservient economic relationships in which their raw materials continued to be extracted – and processed – to the benefit of outside corporations and states:

“Aid” therefore to a neo-colonial state is merely a revolving credit, paid by the neo-colonial master, passing through the neo-colonial state and returning to the neo-colonial master in the form of increased profits

(1965, xv)

Notably, however, Nkrumah did recognize here the double-bind in which certain counterparts of his might find themselves in the immediate advent of decolonization. Namely, that colonization had left African countries with unbalanced economic systems predicated upon the export of valuable raw materials to the metropole, and had left them so impoverished, that short-term aid monies (although maintaining neo-colonial relations) did sometimes seem a preferable option to the politics of austerity and hardship which would otherwise befall (at least for a transitional period), any African country seeking to break the chains of neo-colonial linkages. He wrote on this front that:

[the] hesitancy [of African states to cut ties to former colonisers] is fostered by the sugared water of aid; which is the stop-gap between avid hunger and the hoped-for greater nourishment which never comes. As a result, we find that imperialism, having quickly adapted its outlook to the loss of direct political control, has retained and extended its economic grip

(1965, 33)

Nkrumah thus lamented that many African leaders would take the offer of aid for short-term political gain, namely patronage and graft lubricated by aid monies. This in turn would stave off harder economic decisions associated with a break from neo-colonialism.

Interestingly here, Nkrumah (1965, 1–5) emphasized that foreign governments would work alongside their corporate entities – and vice versa. Namely, that foreign corporations would mobilise their governments in order to safeguard their economic interests in the African continent. Nkrumah, however, did not condemn all forms of foreign direct investment (FDI). He noted that FDI if properly regulated by African governments and directed towards national development plans and objectives might be a boon to economic diversification (*ibid*). Foreign companies might bring necessary technologies and capital, as well as labour know-how. Nevertheless, Nkrumah did foresee the perpetuation of predatory forms of foreign corporate engagement in Africa, primarily in terms of extractive enclave economies inherited from the era of formal colonialism (*ibid*). Such industries would do little to help African economies move on to processing and to the foundation of new service industries, and would instead pillage raw materials while offering little to local workers or host communities surrounding business operation. Foreign aid – often mobilized by corporate lobbying – would help ensure though that certain African elites would acquiesce to the status quo, particularly if these elites financially gained from the neo-colonial economic relationship through personal profit and shares (graft).

It is necessary to recognize, however, that Nkrumah (1965, 33–35) did not view corrupted African elites as automatons, bereft of agency or their own decision-making capacity. Again, he not only emphasized that many elites acquiesced to neo-colonial power structures for want of the

will to bring about an austerity politics that might, in the short term, commence when breaking from colonial economic patterns. He also emphasized that deliberate political calculations entered into the equation, as elites in newly emerging polities sought to stabilize their rule and to gain finances to buoy clients. This would mean though, for Nkrumah, that these elites would have very little interest in assisting their own populations in terms of gaining education (which might then provoke them to resent and resist neo-colonialism) or to foster better labour conditions (which might deter and embitter foreign corporations whose governments provided foreign aid):

The rules of the neo-colonial states derive their authority to govern... from the support which they obtain from their neo-colonialist masters. They have therefore little interest in developing education, strengthening the bargaining power of their workers employed by expatriate firms, or indeed of taking any step which would challenge the colonial pattern of commerce.... [which] is the object of neo-colonialism to preserve

(1965, 1)

Nkrumah thus viewed neo-colonialism as a two-way relationship between elites in London, Brussels and Washington (and beyond) and their counterparts in certain African capital cities in the era of decolonization and Cold War power politicking.

As mentioned in the introduction, meanwhile, it is also clear that Nkrumah did not stand alone in terms of this critical analysis of asymmetric North-South relations. Frantz Fanon (1961), partly inspired by Nkrumah's successes in the overthrow of colonialism in Ghana, and concerned with the assassination of Patrice Lumumba in DRC, wrote eloquently about his own views regarding the neo-colonial danger. Fanon first emphasized what he saw as the vindictiveness of foreign colonial powers who sought to stifle newly emerging African countries from the very outset of independence:

You may see colonialism withdrawing its capital and its technicians and setting up around the young state the apparatus of economic pressure. The apotheosis of independence is transformed into the curse of independence and the colonial power through its immense resources of coercion condemns the young nation to regression. In plain words, the colonial power says, 'Since you want independence, take it and starve'.

(1961, 76)

Fanon emphasized that certain African elites would seek to make a success of a genuine independence free from neo-colonial tutelage. However, this would again involve a (short-term) austerity as the country sought to make economic transitions away from colonial patterns of commerce, and to survive without the aid monies that otherwise had stabilized colonial economies (in the sense of staving off destitution):

The nationalist leaders have no other choice but to turn to their people and ask them for a gigantic effort. A regime of austerity is imposed on these starving men... and autarkic regime is set up and each state, with the miserable resources it has in hand, tries to find an answer to the nation's great hunger and poverty. We see the mobilization of a people which toils to exhaustion in front of a suspicious and bloated Europe

(ibid)

Fanon also expressed, however, that other African elites would choose to take a path of least resistance and align themselves with former colonial powers within a system of neo-

colonialism. In this situation, aid monies would be forthcoming that would allow such elites to lubricate their patronage networks and to maintain themselves in government. This is despite the fact that their political autonomy as governors would be gravely undermined by the loss of empirical sovereignty involved within relations of neo-colonialism:

Other countries of the Third World refuse to undergo this ordeal [austerity regimes upon the withdrawal of aid] and agree to get over it by accepting the conditions of the former guardian power... The former dominated country becomes an economically dependent country. The ex-colonial power, which has kept in tact and sometimes even reinforced its colonialist trade channels agrees to provision the budget of the independent nation by small injections

(*ibid*)

Fanon therefore envisaged the neo-colonial predicament in which African elites would align themselves strategically to former colonial powers, irrespective of the inevitable diminution of economic and political sovereignty that such strategies would involve.

Importantly, the diagnosis of neo-colonialism – in keeping with an African socialist critique of decolonization processes – also found expression in the works of Nkrumah's contemporaries – notably Julius Nyerere and Sekou Touré. Interestingly, the former of these leaders – the President of Tanzania, Nyerere – had been a leading figure within the Monrovia Group in the 1960s. This collection of gradualist African state leaderships argued for a loose confederal model of association between newly independent countries within the continent. This stood in opposition to the more radical stance of the Casablanca Group, led by Nkrumah, who called for the immediate formation of a federal Union of African States (Ndlovu-Gatsheni 2013, 69–70). Nyerere, however, toward the end of his tenure in the 1970s admitted that the success of the Monrovia Group's own vision – embodied in the loose Organisation of African Unity (OAU) – had failed to meaningfully empower African countries against neo-colonial forces. In 1978, he lamented that the neo-colonial threat had not yet been overcome: “sooner or later, and for as long as necessary, Africa, will fight against neo-colonialism as it had fought against colonialism. And eventually it will win” (Nyerere 1978, 11–12). Sekou Touré, meanwhile, who had supported the more comprehensive vision of the Casablanca Group in the debates surrounding African unity in the 1960s, concurred much earlier with Nkrumah's analysis of the neo-colonial danger. In 1962 he notably drew attention to the potential influence of foreign corporate entities over African political elites and the subordinate economic position in which many African states would continue to find themselves within global markets:

The direct colonial exploitation of former days is being succeeded by international monopolies, and this has a tendency to remain permanent. Paradoxically, it is the under-developed nations, exporting raw materials and crude products, which contribute an important share of the costs and social improvements from which workers in the fully developed countries benefit

(*Touré 1962 148*)

Neo-colonial forms of unbalanced trade, underpinned by aid as well as foreign corporate pressures upon African elites, would therefore pose a challenge to the social well-being of African citizenries even after decolonization had formally taken place.

Interestingly, both Touré (1962) and Nkrumah (1965) issued specific warnings to their political contemporaries in Francophone Africa about the dangers of concluding so-called

“Association” agreements with the then European Economic Community (EEC) in the 1960s. Association under the Yaoundé Conventions (1963–1975), according to the European Commission, would offer aid assistance toward poverty reduction in newly independent former colonies via the European Development Fund (EDF) (Brown 2000). Beneficial terms of trade would also be offered to African countries (the Francophone former colonies of Belgium and France), on the understanding that they remained open to foreign investment – particularly in lucrative extractive mineral sectors. Touré and Nkrumah argued, however, that Association would prove a Trojan Horse in relation to African countries’ genuine empirical independence from foreign tutelage. Both foresaw that European officials would make aid conditional upon the signing of disadvantageous trade agreements which would necessitate African countries to accept the influx of foreign products, to the detriment of their own infant industries. Industrialization would be impossible in the context of the import flooding of cheap European wares, to the collapse of local manufacturing capacities in African “Associates.”

Meanwhile, both leaders warned that European aid monies would corrupt African elites and also be used towards the subsidization of regressive forms of European corporate activity in dirty extractive sectors. Touré (1962) specifically warned that a Eurafican Association would denigrate African states’ economic and political standing: “unconditional integration into a multinational market negates the possibility of industrial development in advance; it could only be the association of the rider and the horse.” Nkrumah (1965, 19) echoed these concerns and warned Francophone nations against “the collective colonialism of the European Common Market.” According to Segal (1964) writing in the timeframe of Eurafican Association under the Yaoundé Accords:

President Nkrumah’s objections to associated status are both economic and ideological. According to him, associated states will perpetuate neo-colonialism and provide a fundamental obstacle to the achievement of African political and economic unity, which is the sole means whereby African states can overcome their lack of development.

In a contemporary context, the European Union (EU) stands similarly accused by a plethora of African civil society organisations of perpetuating neo-colonial forms of economic and political domination in the continent in the timeframe of the Cotonou Agreement (2000–2020) between the EU and African, Caribbean and Pacific (ACP) states. Europe’s utilization of aid monies to coerce African governments into stringent policies regarding the securitisation of development in the case of so-called “fragile states,” and the concomitant stemming of migrant flows, has recently come under particular attention. The next section therefore highlights the EU’s securitisation of development as illustration of the contemporary relevance of the concept of neo-colonialism for making sense of current forms of North-South ties (in this case those between the EU and its African “Associates” in the timeframe of the Cotonou Agreement).

Africa-EU relations: neo-colonialism and the securitisation of development

It is important to recognise that European neo-colonialism in Africa is not limited to the pursuit of detrimental economic arrangements via premature trade liberalisation. Neo-colonial forms of EU-Africa relations also find expression in terms of the EU’s securitisation of its “development” agenda – largely focused upon the stabilisation of so-named “fragile states” and the stemming of irregular migration from African territories to the EU

metropole. With regard to these policy objectives, the European Commission (2016, 2017, 2019) has steadfastly declared that it is primarily driven by a humanitarian ethos, focused upon the plight of poorer citizenries in Africa. EU efforts to stem violent conflict in Mali and Chad, for example, are discursively framed as moral interventions seeking to improve opportunities for poorer people in fragile states (EEAS 2019). And while there is discursive recognition in EU statements of the need to protect European citizenries in terms of a wider effort against Islamism and the incubation of terror groups, EU overseas efforts are routinely seen as evidence of a moral largesse from a benevolent partner to its weaker neighbours (EEAS 2018a). This humanitarian ethos also finds expression in the discourse surrounding “irregular migration” (EEAS 2018b). Again, EU officials make clear that they do not view such actions as zero-sum, that is, with African countries being disciplined by a paternalistic and self-interested Europe. Instead they view efforts to tackle migration under the Africa-EU Valletta Action Plan as evidence of Europe’s genuine concern for the plight of (predominantly) young men who might otherwise perish on dangerous journeys across the Sahara and the Mediterranean. As part of this discourse, EU efforts to tackle “the root causes of irregular migration” regularly highlight the need to create jobs and prosperity in African states in order to incentivise young people to remain in their countries of origin rather than seek new lives and opportunities within the EU member states (*ibid*).

Despite these reassuring narratives, however, it is clear that EU interventions can be classified as “neo-colonial” in the sense of re-asserting Europe’s economic and political dominance through coercive aid strategies which denude genuine empirical state sovereignty. The interventions of the EU – and its prominent member state, France – in the cases of “fragile states” such as Mali and Chad, for example, do much to illustrate the ethical problems associated with an EU neo-colonial prerogative in Africa in the contemporary era. Worryingly, France has routinely sought to bolster pliable elites in the region with a view to protecting its considerable economic interests, not least in terms of uranium supplies crucial for French nuclear energy conglomerates (Boeke and Bart 2015, 806). As part of this effort, France alongside the EU and multilateral bodies such as the International Monetary Fund (IMF) have channelled aid monies to Sahelian politicians on the understanding that they adhere to neoliberal economic norms relating to market openness and acceptance of foreign investment. In the case of Mali, where a French military intervention took place from 2011 to 2013 against northern rebels, Charbonneau and Sears (2014, 201) explain that such economic prescriptions in fact engendered the social instability and national fragmentation that led to the outbreak of crisis in the first instance:

These political elites oversaw the past two decades of Mali’s tutelage by the International Monetary Fund, World Bank and major bilateral donors such as France, a period marked by excessive executive dominance and a minimalist and procedural vision of democratization as electoralism to support ‘good governance’ for international financial institutions–mandated economic liberalization and development initiatives. Thus, liberalizing governance in Mali prior to the events of 2011–13 had further centralized power, concentrated wealth and intensified socio-economic cleavages, especially between rural and urban populations, but also among classes within urban area.

French and EU claims to therefore support “fragile states” through benevolent intervention in civil conflicts such as that of Mali in 2011–13 are therefore somewhat paradoxical given the role of both Paris and Brussels in promoting neoliberal economic reforms inimical to

social peace in the Sahel. The dangers therefore of such neo-colonial aid relations for local populations become wholly apparent.

In Central Africa, meanwhile, EU support for the regime of Joseph Kabila in the DRC – again with the geopolitical interests of Paris at stake – has been framed in terms of the need to assist a so-called fragile state to achieve greater social and economic prosperity (Gegout 2009, 235). France, meanwhile, has emphasised the position of the DRC within the “Francophonie” in order to legitimise its own lead role vis-à-vis military interventions, notably in Operation Artemis in 2003 under an EU banner (France Diplomatie 2018). It has also emphasised its close ties to DRC in order to legitimise its commentary surrounding the political situation in the country – most recently to condemn alleged electoral fraud and the inauguration of Felix Tshisekedi, a long-time political foe of Joseph Kabila (The Guardian 2019). This French condemnation of the electoral process is in the context of a longer running dispute about the running of the elections (between the DRC and its European partners), resulting in the expulsion of the EU representative from DRC in December 2018 – an episode broadcast live on a state channel (Politico 2018). The close alignment between Paris and Brussels in this instance evidences a co-operative element among European elites within EU neo-colonial interventions in Africa. And France’s use of military intervention and aid money to buttress Joseph Kabila (and therein French economic interests) would point once more to a situation of infringed empirical sovereignty. Indeed, in the lead up to the 2018 presidential elections Kabila himself warned that the country must be vigilant about EU interventions in the political affairs of the nation, especially in the transition of power (BBC 2017).

Nevertheless, the case of the DRC also points to potential competitive elements of neo-colonialism in terms of Western “core” nations’ conflicting imperial prerogatives in Africa. Notably, at the outbreak of the Second Congo War in 1998, Western actors – including EU member states, Britain and France – were divided in terms of their support, with some backing then President Laurent Kabila in Kinshasa, while others supporting the interventions of Rwanda and Uganda. Gegout (2009) usefully explains that when the:

second Congolese war broke out in 1998, Western actors continued to support the leaders of their traditional zones of influence. France supported the DRC, whereas the United States and the UK backed Rwanda and Uganda. This rivalry between the Western powers, and their lack of impartiality, were not conducive to ending the war.

In the most recent phase of DRC politics – namely the election of Felix Tshisekedi – the potential for external power competition within systems of neo-colonialism again come to a head – not least in terms of the ability of China (given its historical policy of non-interference) to support a president otherwise denounced by core Western states. Indeed, external powers will inevitably weigh their geopolitical and commercial interests in the DRC and its lucrative extractive sectors before actively undermining (or supporting) Tshisekedi’s rule.

With striking parallels to humanitarian EU discourse concerning fragile states, meanwhile, EU actions to stem irregular migration from Africa to its member states are publicly justified in terms of the developmental needs of African citizenries (European Commission 2017; EEAS 2018b). Federica Mogherini, the recent EU High Representative for Foreign Affairs and Security Policy, claimed that the EU seeks to improve the welfare of African citizenries, and to therein deal with the “root causes” of migration stemming from North-South inequality:

We often talk about the root causes of migration, namely poverty, climate change. Let us call things with their names. We are talking about inequalities: an unequal distribution of wealth and resources around the world. This is what we are talking about when we talk about the root causes of migration – also conflicts and crises, and many of them are caused exactly by inequalities and unequal distribution of resources

(EEAS 2018b)

Mogherini thus stated the case for the EU to take seriously its interventions within a migration-development nexus.

Significantly in terms of a contemporary analysis of neo-colonialism, however, the EU has regularly conditioned its aid-giving in Africa with regard to migration partnership agreements with individual African states. This chimes with the rationale of the wider Africa-EU Valletta Action Plan which stipulates the need for African governments to actively assist the EU in its efforts to stem irregular migration – lubricated by promised aid funds (Toaldo and Barana 2016). Such aid conditionality has been condemned by Western non-governmental organisations (NGOs) including Oxfam (2017) and CONCORD (2018) who query the securitisation of development as embodied in the marriage of aid monies to migration management efforts (driven by EU member state antipathy to African migration). Moreover, African NGOs themselves – including the West African Observatory on Migrations (WAOM) and the Pan African Network for the Defense of Migrants' Rights (PANiDMR), have called for pan-African strategies to counteract the invidious way in which EU aid monies have incentivised African governments to step up surveillance of their own populations vis-à-vis irregular migration:

The lure of European financial aid to fight against migration transforms the African political authorities in real persecutors of their brothers and sisters who are looking for work to live and feed their families... The European Union, at the expense of its humanist values... outsources its security migration policy. African civil society calls for the African Union commission, the Economic Community of West African States (ECOWAS) and all African heads of state to... engage resolutely in a real regional integration process. Only a true African integration could prevent our countries to always be the instrument of European policy

(WAOM-PANiDMR Joint Statement 2016)

In keeping with the rationale of Nkrumah (1965), pan-African solidarity is viewed as the best means for combating EU security strategies masquerading as “development” interventions in the context of irregular migration flows.

Having examined EU efforts in the case of so-called fragile states and migration, it does become clear that the EU is enacting a form of neo-colonial domination in its dealings with African countries. Clearly in the case of military intervention in the case of Mali and the DRC, European states cement their own geopolitical and commercial interests, even in situations where social instability has been precipitated by neoliberal economic reforms advocated by Western “core” nations. Following Nkrumah (1965), it would appear that the EU is engaging in neo-colonial strategies, with the utilisation of aid monies as a means of subverting genuine empirical sovereignty through support to pliable client elites. Rather than understand problems of African development through the sole prism of “corruption,” therefore, it is incumbent upon scholars to understand how state “fragility” and the root causes of migration can be directly traced to the neo-colonial policies pursued by “development” donors themselves.

Conclusion

As this discussion has illustrated, the work of Nkrumah (1965) – alongside that of his notable contemporaries Fanon (1961) and Touré (1962) – remain vital to a contemporary understanding of neo-colonialism. Highlighting the corrupting use of aid monies to pervert genuine political sovereignty and economic systems in Africa, the concept of neo-colonialism calls attention to the misuses of donor “development” policy. Moreover, following the work of Nkrumah, the concept also draws attention to the role of corporate entities in pressuring their home nations to utilise aid monies in such regressive fashion – namely to ensure ongoing access to lucrative raw materials. Nkrumah’s analysis, meanwhile, also reminds us to examine forms of African agency – either to resist or to embrace systems of neo-colonialism – and to understand the potential motivations of elites in their dealings with former colonial powers.

Additionally, the discussion of contemporary EU policies towards so-called “failed states” and in relation to the stemming of migration from Africa illustrates the contemporary resonance of Nkrumah’s analysis of neo-colonial dilemmas. Just as Nkrumah – and Touré – warned of the dangers of Eurafican Association in the timeframe of the Yaoundé Conventions (1963–1975), contemporary EU policies in the timeframe of the Cotonou Agreement (2000–2020) continue to undermine empirical sovereignty in sub-Saharan Africa. Following Nkrumah, therefore, African leaderships – as well as civil society groups and trade union coalitions – would do well to heed his advice regarding the best avenue for overcoming neo-colonial influence. Namely, following the leanings of the Casablanca Group of states in the debates surrounding African unity in the 1960s, contemporary African political decision-makers would do well to pursue pan-African solutions to neo-colonialism in the continent.

References

- BBC. 2017. DR Congo President Kabila Warns against Foreign Meddling, *BBC News* 5 April 2017. London: BBC.
- Boeke, S. and Schuurman, B. 2015. ‘Operation “Serval”: A Strategic Analysis of the French Intervention in Mali, 2013–2014’, *Journal of Strategic Studies*, 10: 1–25.
- Brown, W. 2000. Restructuring North-South relations: ACP-EU Development Co-Operation in a Liberal International Order, *Review of African Political Economy*, 27(85): 367–383.
- Charbonneau, B. and Sears J. 2014. Fighting for Liberal Peace in Mali? the Limits of International Military Intervention, *Journal of Intervention and Statebuilding*, 8(2–3): 192–213.
- CONCORD. 2018. *European Council’s Measures on Migration: ineffective, Costly and against Human Rights*. Brussels: CONCORD.
- EEAS. 2018a. *EU Steps up Support for the Development of the Sahel*. Brussels: EEAS.
- EEAS. 2018b. *Remarks by High Representative/Vice-President Federica Mogherini at the Joint Press Conference following the 5th EU-Ukraine Association Council*. Brussels: EEAS.
- EEAS. 2019. *International Co-operation and Development – Mali*. Brussels: EEAS.
- European Commission. 2016. *Sustainable Development: EU Sets Out Its Priorities*. Brussels: European Commission.
- European Commission. 2017. *New European Consensus on Development – ‘Our World, Our Dignity, Our Future’*. Brussels: European Commission.
- European Commission. 2019. *Migration and Home Affairs – Africa*. Brussels: European Commission.
- Fanon, F. 1961. *The Wretched of the Earth*. London: Penguin [2001 reprint edition].
- France Diplomatie. 2018. *France and Democratic Republic of the Congo*. Paris: France Diplomatie. Available at: www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/en/country-files/democratic-republic-of-the-congo/france-and-democratic-republic-of-the-congo/ Accessed 1st March 2019.
- Gegout, C. 2009. The West, Realism and Intervention in the Democratic Republic of Congo (1996–2006), *International Peacekeeping*, 16(2): 231–244.
- Langan, M. 2017. *Neo-Colonialism and the Poverty of ‘Development’ in Africa*. New York: Palgrave.

- Ndlovu-Gatsheni, S. J. 2013. *Coloniality of Power in Post-Colonial Africa: myths of Decolonization*. Dakar: CODESRIA.
- Nkrumah, K. 1965. *Neo-Colonialism: the Last Stage of Imperialism*. New York: Sixth Printing – New York International Publishers, 1976.
- Nyerere, J. 1978. Foreign Troops in Africa, *Africa Report*, 23(4): 10–14.
- Oxfam. 2017. *Beyond 'Fortress Europe': principles for a Humane EU Migration Policy*. Oxford: Oxfam.
- Politico. 2018. *Congo to EU: Mind Your Own Business*, 29/12/18. Available at: www.politico.eu/article/congo-to-eu-mind-your-own-business-bart-ouvry-expulsion/ Accessed 1st March 2019.
- Segal, A. 1964. Africa Newly Divided?, *Journal of Modern African Studies*, 2(1): 73–90.
- The Guardian. 2019. *Congo Election Runner-Up Rejects Tshisekedi Victory as "Electoral Coup"* 10/01/2019. Available at: www.theguardian.com/world/2019/jan/10/congo-election-felix-tshisekedi-declared-winner-in-contentious-result Accessed 10/ 01/2019.
- Toaldo, M. and Barana L. 2016. *The EU's Migration Policy in Africa: Five Ways Forward*. Berlin: European Council on Foreign Relations.
- Touré, S. 1962. Africa's Future and the World, *Foreign Affairs*, 41: 141–151.
- WAOM-PANiDMR. 2016. *WAOM-PANiDMR Joint Statement 2016* Available at: www.statewatch.org/news/2016/may/eu-africa-ngos-statement.pdf Accessed 1st April 2019.

Pan-Africanism and decolonization

Between the universal and the particular

Andrew W.M. Smith

Agency lies at the heart of decolonization, both descriptively and in practice. It is an evolving agency that crashes against the structures, both hidden and visible, that constrain its expression. With this in mind, decolonization can be viewed most appropriately as an ongoing national, social, and personal process and not simply as an event marked by the folding of flags and the heartfelt singing of anthems of liberation. Of course, the ceremonies which marked the end of formal European empires were crucial steps in the decolonization of African and Asian peoples, yet they were not an immediate realisation of liberty. In *A Season in the Congo*, Aimé Césaire's poignant paean to Patrice Lumumba, this tension is laid bare.¹ In the play, Lumumba's struggle is not simply for formal independence from Belgian colonial masters, but for a meaningful and substantive measure of liberty from their influence, their legacy, and their ongoing interests. Recognising the way in which this liberty maps onto the broader diaspora in a Pan-African reading of decolonization thus allows an unpacking of what Césaire referred to as the "revolutionary action" for which the colonial situation called.² In Césaire's life and work, we can trace a thread by which to understand decolonization neither as a dissolution in the universal, nor a retreat into the particular, but rather as the recognition and reprise of the agency required to recast an empowered universalism of the spirit.

This chapter will first consider the emergence of the phrase "decolonization" and how its usage reflected European assumptions about freedom being a gift bestowed by reforming empires and taking the form of national independence. As noted by Hakim Adi, ideas of liberation are not realised simply through the vehicle of the nation-state and flag independence. One of the principal vehicles for the evolution of decolonization has been the development of Pan-Africanism and its vision for the liberation of the African diaspora as well as the continent of Africa.³ Decolonization reflected distinct trends of political mobilization across Africa and the African diaspora, and using the examples of the First and Second Congresses of Black Artists and Writers this chapter will then show how the concept swelled beyond the nation-state and grew to acknowledge the agency of the colonized, engaging particularly with the concept of national culture as described by Frantz Fanon. Finally, this chapter will look at how the term decolonization has come to be discussed in contemporary society following the nominative end of empire and the reality of formal independence,

with debates often focussed on diasporic cultural relationships and the need to reconsider the physical and mental legacies of empire.

Decolonization from above: the late colonial state

Todd Shephard locates one of the earliest usages of the term decolonization in the immediate aftermath of France's invasion of North Africa, appearing in the 1836 tract "Decolonization of Algiers" written by the journalist Henri Fonfrède.⁴ This appeared in a Bordelais newspaper only six years after France's conquest of North Africa had begun, and only two years after a Governor of France's North African possessions had been appointed.⁵ Given this proximity, the appearance of the word "décolonisation" in the article presents a tantalising suggestion of some early awakening to colonialism's ills. Even at this stage, however, Fonfrède a well-to-do journalist in Bordeaux and the son of a famous Girondin, was not concerned with the liberty of the newly colonised territory or its people. Instead, his article (which was widely dismissed in Paris as being too narrowly interested in *Bordeaux's* fortunes) called for shifting France's buccaneering ethic back home.⁶ This was far from a recognition of the agency of colonised people, although it captured a meaningful sense of how the term would become associated with the agency of the colonizer. For Fonfrède, a step away from France's imperial mission was a refocussing of her own good works, not an attempt to respond to injustice or seek to remedy the impacts of colonial expansion. This early engagement with the idea of decolonisation, focussing on it as a process occurring from above and addressing the interests of the colonizer, was somewhat emblematic of the term and the concept as it remained in formation.

Interwar engagement with decolonization revolved around a liberal reading of the so called "civilizing mission," which would lead colonies closer to a state of "free association" as they graduated towards nationhood.⁷ By way of example, in June 1927, *The Times* of London published a report on the 19th Congress of the International Colonial Institute, a collaborative body that had been founded in 1898 as a place for European intellectual and political elites to compare notes on colonial administration.⁸ In a discussion of imperial reforms and the introduction of representative assemblies on the route towards this free association, Professor Henri Rolin noted the lasting significance of Woodrow Wilson's 14 points and the impulse towards self-determination, stating that the "period of colonization will be followed by a period of decolonization."⁹ This reading prioritised a schedule controlled by colonial administrators and intellectuals, in which the gradual opening up of imperial structures would accompany the slow awakening of African agency. Interestingly, even here there was some sense that this was not a process that they could completely control. Rolin, himself a prominent Belgian figure in international colonial legal disputes and networks of knowledge, seemed to doubt at this congress whether subject nations would maintain sentimental links to their former colonial masters after the advance of greater sovereign autonomy.¹⁰ Inchoate though it may be, this forecasting of the breakdown of the imperial compact and the flourishing of more active anti-colonial struggle was indicative of the ways in which shifting agency could be read as a crisis.

Early Pan-African Congresses held in London (in 1900, 1921, and 1923), Paris (in 1919), and New York (in 1927), all heralded a vision of unity which drew together the diaspora with the fate of the African continent.¹¹ Their formation in imperial cities and their focus on the nation-state which ran through the movement Kehinde Andrews argues, however, meant that their origins "were not in direct conflict with the colonial administration."¹² This is not to deny the radical vision of these congresses, nor to gainsay the extraordinarily

important organising work behind the movement in giving definition and inspiration to the African diaspora, but to stress the means by which the context of the nation-state often defined the horizons for change and limited its revolutionary potential. This was shaken most dramatically at the landmark 1945 Pan-African Congress in Manchester, where emancipatory discussions broke the trend of the interwar era by calling for independence across Africa in a direct engagement with decolonization.¹³ This post-war shift marked a change for Pan-Africanism as a movement, but also a period of profound social, cultural, and political crisis for European empires, and there is both a historical and historicised meaning to this idea of late colonial crisis. When writing about the history of decolonisation, the 1950s signify, as Koselleck terms it, “a historically immanent transitional phase.”¹⁴ Yet there was also a contemporary reading, in which events were pushing towards a moment that meant action, or some other reckoning, which opened up the horizons of expectation for Pan-Africanists and anti-colonialists whilst raising questions for imperial administrators. For Paul Mus, a philologist who taught Asian languages, served the Free French in Africa and Indochina, and later worked as a Professor at the Collège du France, the French empire was already on “The Path to Decolonization.” His 1956 article laid out the failings of colonial policy more broadly and led him to question whether “Guided by events, will we manage to unleash in Africa, a vibrant and acceptable program of constructive decolonization on the ground and in time?”¹⁵ Georges Balandier noted in the same year that it had “become banal to note that the ‘time of the finite world’ has begun,” suggesting that greater interconnectivity would draw attention to imperial inequality and break open “even the most distant socio-cultural boundaries.”¹⁶ These visions of decolonization reacted to the breakdown of relations between colonizer and colonised peoples in the late colonial state. Be it through Macmillan’s “wind of change,” Nkrumah’s “raging hurricane” or the tides of history washing France out of Algeria, European colonialism appeared destined to be overwhelmed by forces beyond its control.¹⁷

With this realisation, scholars in Europe and in the United States began to engage more actively with the term “decolonisation,” yet it continued to be understood as something that was done by empires and imperialists, rather than engaging or empowering subject populations. As Shephard notes, the word decolonization was used to denote “specific shifts of sovereignty in particular territories.”¹⁸ Or, as Stuart Ward tellingly describes the phrase, decolonization served as “a European conceptual innovation that worked to absorb and deflect the phenomenon it ostensibly described.”¹⁹ Yet, as with Rolin’s reading, this increasingly took on connotations of crisis, necessitating recourse to the language of elemental change. In the western historiography of decolonization, the concept moved from being one of elite-led liberal transfer of power, towards a break-down of relationship between imperial power and subject people.²⁰ The difference seemed to be, as Patrice Lumumba put it, a “liberating breath” which swelled political life across Africa in the late 1950s.²¹ Although models of political transfer could build on a long list of examples, such as the fall of the Ottoman or Russian Empires, the formal transfers which took place around 1960 seemed to be marked by a different character. The end of the British and French Empires delegitimised the concept of empire as a political unit, and the decline of other imperial territories (the Dutch and Belgian Empires, and later the Portuguese Empire, for example) seemed to indicate that something broader had changed. As De Gaulle noted in 1963, the project of empire had “passed its expiration date.”²² Yet, for all this talk of transfer and difference, it is important to note what did not change. The lingering interests which delimited the independence granted by colonial masters defined the horizon of possibility for young states, as Lumumba tragically discovered. Gary Wilder describes Césaire’s recounting of Lumumba’s

story as a tragic illustration of “the fatal danger of popular without territorial sovereignty.”²³ After the murder of Lumumba, Frantz Fanon questioned the extent to which the granting of formal independence had represented a meaningful change. In an article originally published in *Action Afrique* in 1961, he cautioned that “Our mistake, the mistake we Africans made, was to have forgotten that the enemy never withdraws sincerely. He never understands. He capitulates, but he does not become converted.”²⁴ Decolonization from above was conceived and enacted as a way of altering existing imperial frameworks without shattering them. It was the corrupted independence, or “*dépense*,” that Césaire lampoons in *Un Saison au Congo*, which “arrives with the little white king, the Bwana Kitoko, it is he who brings it to us.”²⁵

The poetry of revolt: national cultures of decolonization

The broader notes of the substantive freedom Césaire outlines can be found in his engagement with Pan-Africanism and Négritude in the 1950s, building on the movement’s landmark 1945 Congress and drawing new conceptions of universalism from across the diaspora.²⁶ Examining this intellectual development places decolonization in context and stresses cultural expression and freedom of thought as key markers of liberty alongside the formal sovereignty of nation-states. Decolonization was never simply a transfer of power to be initiated by colonial masters, but in the context of its formulation was inextricably linked to African agency. Leslie James contends that when thinking about the Second World War as a tipping point, we must question “how did the war impact the metropolitan perception of its empire and imperial rule, and to what extent did the war transform colonial peoples?”²⁷ The war had not only changed the material status of the metropole but had also been fought with a progressive vision for post-war reconstruction at the forefront of Allied war aims (with for example, the self-determination promised by the Atlantic Charter, or the reforming promises made at Brazzaville for the French). Yet, these were illusory promises. Césaire’s *Discourse on Colonialism* challenged western cultural authority with direct reference to the Second World War, juxtaposing the struggle against Nazism with the post-war survival of colonialism and the intrinsic, sadistic violence of both.²⁸ This new reality saw Césaire label Europe “morally, spiritually indefensible,” attacking the premises of Western liberalism and the traditions of humanism.²⁹ Here, the critique drew on his own interwar activism as well as that of the wider field of anti-colonial and Pan-African activists, who had been pursuing forms of decolonization *avant le lettre*.³⁰ Between concepts of colonial humanism which sought to recast the outmoded relationships of empire, and the language of anti-colonial nationalism which led to an outright rejection of colonialism, there was an intellectual thread which challenged Western norms and stressed the interwoven nature of national culture and political freedom.³¹

This was, then, a crucial period for cementing many of these discussions in anti-colonial discourse and in the critique of racialized colonization which emerged from the work of Césaire and others. It was a moment that represented, for Malcolm X at least, “a tidal wave of color.”³² Between the Bandung Conference and the “Cultural Bandung” of the First Congress of Black Writers and Artists, prominent anti-colonial activists and intellectuals described a system of thought which rejected the fact that, as Alioune Diop, the editor of *Présence Africaine*, would say, “History, with a capital H,” could be left to “the universal world-view of the West alone.”³³ Indeed, this was one of the limitations of the otherwise crucial work undertaken at the Bandung Conference.³⁴ Bandung provided an important moment in which the Third World was able to assert its place on the world stage, and in which newly independent nation states were able to argue for their right to engage in

international politics. Yet, as Robbie Shilliam points out, there were problems with the ways in which this was expressed:

The paradox of the conference was that it took the key method of self-determination from blueprints of the masters' architecture: the enabling institution was to be the nation-state; and the process was to be development or modernization³⁵

Emerging from this type of analysis there was a need to identify and remedy where structures of oppression had limited and inhibited the expression of cultures outwith the imperial framework. The nation-state itself presented a political, cultural, and historiographical constraint beyond which lay the possibility of challenging counter narratives to imperial norms.³⁶ For Pan-Africanists, different poles of identity attracted activists and thinkers, and while the tangible promise of independent nation-states loomed larger, the broader liberation of the continent and its diaspora was a loftier goal. Césaire warned that “the *nation* is a bourgeois phenomenon,” and that under “the banner of anticolonialism” forces like American high finance could “raid every colony in the world.”³⁷ Liberating oneself only to accept the sovereign constraints of Cold War geopolitics was, for some, only a limited and limiting form of independence.

The First Congress of Black Writers and Artists took place in Paris in the Descartes Amphitheatre at the Sorbonne, from 19th to 22nd September 1956, chaired by Alioune Diop. At its heart was an acknowledgement that culture was one of the most important elements of the anti-colonial struggle, and one of the clarion calls of the congress was a rejection of assimilation as a dominant colonial policy.³⁸ Césaire built on the Négritude movement’s “resistance to the politics of assimilation” in his writing, and also in his resignation from the French Communist party, which had reduced the anticolonial struggle to a “fragment” of their wider struggle.³⁹ So, when Aimé Césaire spoke to the conference about “Culture and colonization,” he unpacked the ways by which the formal structures of imperialism crushed the potential of African people, stating that “a political and social regime that suppresses the self-determination of a people thereby kills the creative power of that people.”⁴⁰ To address the “cultural chaos” created by colonialism, Césaire proposed to the conference that they would clear the way for future thinkers to continue the process of liberation: “Let the peoples speak. Let the black peoples come onto the great stage of history.” Césaire’s aim was not to call for immediate violent revolution, but instead to reclaim elements of cultural expression previously denied by the structures of colonialism or, in other words, to begin to decolonize culture.⁴¹

Emergent theories of National Culture were important moderators of the concept that decolonization was something enacted by colonial powers. As Fanon outlined “a national culture is the whole body of efforts made by a people in the sphere of thought to describe, justify, and praise the action through which that people has created itself and keeps itself in existence.”⁴² With this in mind, the First Conference of Independent African States in Accra, in April 1958, was an important corollary to the Bandung conference because of its profoundly Pan-African message. It dwelled on the concept of an “African Personality” which united participants in their commitment to a struggle of anti-colonial solidarity.⁴³ Focussing on the potential of Pan-Africanism to drive a movement connecting and inspiring the wider African diaspora was part of this mission, offering a sense as Césaire outlined, that “the struggle against colonialism is not to be terminated as quickly as is commonly believed and not merely because imperialism has not been defeated on a military level.”⁴⁴ This encouraged thinking about decolonization as a project which could only be addressed

beyond the level of the nation-state. As such, the political solidarity of Pan-Africanism offered a vehicle through which to pursue decolonization in cultural terms and think through “the body of efforts” to create and sustain freedom, as outlined by Fanon. At the second Congress of Black Writers and Artists in Rome in 1959, Sékou Touré offered his views on the importance of national culture, moving beyond any sense that it referred only to the aesthetic: “To take part in the African revolution it is not enough to write a revolutionary song; you must fashion the revolution with the people. And if you fashion it with the people, the songs will come by themselves and of themselves”.⁴⁵ When Frantz Fanon meditated on National Culture, he chose to quote wholesale from Kéïta Fodéba’s poem “African Dawn,” within which lay the obvious double meaning of an awakening both physical and cultural.⁴⁶ In Fodéba’s work, he said, “we find a constant desire to define accurately the historic moment of the struggle and to mark off the field in which actions will unfold, the ideas around which the will of the people will crystallize.”⁴⁷

The cultural reprise of the First Congress of Black Artists and Writers was taken up as a challenge following the political statements of Bandung, and developed teeth as it took on the language of national liberation. Tying cultural decolonization to the larger project of liberation acknowledged the realities of economic domination set out by Nkrumah, but sought to tackle this by—to paraphrase Robbie Shilliam—drawing up new blueprints for the architecture of the African people.⁴⁸ Hakim Adi notes that at the Algiers Pan-African Congress in 1969, the struggle against Eurocentrism was viewed not as a question of reclaiming the past, but of taking practical measures to elevate the importance of African languages and the cultures of the masses of the people to unite and free the entire continent.⁴⁹ This aspect of decolonization frames the importance of what Franz Fanon called a “poetry of revolt” in structuring the creative work of ongoing liberation.

Statues and ghosts: contemporary decolonization

Writing in 1966, five years after Lumumba’s assassination, Césaire’s *A Season in the Congo* was designed to rehabilitate and recover the murdered Congolese leader from the negative caricature he had become in European accounts.⁵⁰ This in turn showed another aspect of how we can conceive of decolonization, and Belgium’s engagement with its colonial past provides an instructive example. The end of formal colonialism clearly did not preclude decisive action to defend economic interests, as seen in the tragedy of Patrice Lumumba. Yet, as Césaire’s engagement with Lumumba’s legacy showed, the reconstruction of the past could be a foundation from which to control timelines of change in the present. “History with a capital H,” as Diop had put it, was the domain of national culture, and a vehicle through which decolonization might be continued. Pan-Africanist solidarity is useful here to see how decolonization was not a process limited to former colonies, but encompassing the colonizers themselves, and to note the process of decolonization linking together the experience of diasporic communities and Africans on the continent. In the former imperial capitals, however, forgetfulness threatened to undermine this awakening. In Belgium, where the Congo had slipped from school curricula, children might instead explore empire through its romanticised depiction in Hergé’s *Tintin*, wherein the exotic adventures of the titular hero were suffused with a viewpoint which stressed a “combination of scientific superiority and paternalistic benevolence” in European interactions overseas.⁵¹ Indeed, the crude depictions of African people in *Tintin au Congo* interpreted the “savage and primitive” exhibits of the Musée du Congo for a much wider audience, serving to popularise and promote a particular vision of Belgian imperialism.⁵² This lack of visibility has seen Belgium’s African diaspora

struggle to be represented adequately in Belgium's fractured political system, and thus continue to face racial inequalities and systematic social deprivation as a result.

In the central figure of Césaire's *A Season in the Congo*, Patrice Lumumba, we can perhaps find an instructive example of how colonial violence lingers and perpetuates structures of oppression. In 1978 Gerard Soete, who was a police commissioner in Katanga at the time of Lumumba's murder, revealed his role in the gruesome eradication of Patrice Lumumba's body (along with Maurice Mpolo and Joseph Okito) by dismemberment and dissolution in canisters of acid.⁵³ Amidst a generalised climate of silence and forgetting, these revelations did not cause uproar. Indeed, this would come later, though as noted by Idesbald Goddeeris, the initial reckoning which followed the publication of *King Leopold's Ghost* in 1998 and then *The Assassination of Lumumba* in 2004 had largely settled into a muted consensus by 2010 and the 50th anniversary of Congolese independence.⁵⁴ In the meantime, the popular Flemish magazine *Humo*, revealed in an interview that Soete had retained some of the Congolese leader's teeth as a grisly trophy.⁵⁵ In the Flemish daily *De Standaard*, the writer Hugo Claus reacted with a poem called "Lumumba's gebit" (Lumumba's teeth), which framed the violent act in classical terms, and recalled Jason's quest for the golden fleece and the sewing of the Hydra's teeth.⁵⁶ Years later following Soete's death, that same magazine interviewed his daughter, who repeated the story that he had thrown Lumumba's teeth into the North Sea, yet revealed to journalists that her late-father had retained one gold-capped molar in a box.⁵⁷ This was then given over to be held at the Palais de Justice in Brussels, where its presence is emblematic of the work still to be done in addressing the scars of Belgian colonial (and post-colonial) violence.⁵⁸ Indeed, Belgium's reckoning with its imperial past has been faltering and reluctant, and there continue to be calls for further decolonization of Belgian society. The government inquiry into Lumumba's execution concluded in 2002, and then Foreign Minister Louis Michel apologised to the Lumumba family on behalf of the Belgian state, which he had concluded was not directly involved in ordering the execution, but nevertheless implicated in the act by the involvement of key individuals.⁵⁹ Crucially, no-one faced trial as a result.

In 2004, following the broadcast of a BBC documentary recounting Belgian brutality in the Congo Free State entitled *White King, Red Rubber, Black Death*, an act of vandalism in Ostend targeted a statue commemorating King Leopold II.⁶⁰ Part of the statue depicted an enslaved man rendered in bronze, raising an arm towards the king, whilst his other hangs by his side. In an echo of the colonial violence which had been prevalent in the Congo Free State, the statue's hand was sawn off. The identity of the activists largely remained a mystery, even featuring in a discussion in the Belgian Senate.⁶¹ Interestingly, in an acknowledgement of the situation created by the statue's vandalization, Ostend's city officials resolved that the monument was a more effective tool of education if it remained incomplete.⁶² As such, it was not repaired, and the absence of the hand communicated its own message, serving as "witness to the dark colonial past of Leopold II."⁶³ Again, in the Senate, the journalist and Senator Josy Dubié (for the Ecolo party) praised the decision to leave the monument incomplete, reading aloud reports from 1905 which stated:

The international enquiry commission sent to the Congo from 1904 to 1905 has noted that soldiers in well-defined regions had been ordered to cut off the hands of natives killed in action in order to demonstrate the effectiveness of cartridges provided.

The decision to leave the monument with its missing hand was, he said, "a poignant symbol of a particularly tragic episode in our history," noting that certain historical facts "needed to

be underlined.”⁶⁴ Raising this discussion in the Senate ensured that once again the historical record contained recognition of past colonial violence and demanded a response which underlined its relevance to contemporary society. The monument became a palimpsest, and its missing hand made it both a valuable text and a site for the performance of debates around colonial legacies. In 2010, for example, the hand was replaced with a replica made of chocolate, seeking to highlight the ways in which Belgium’s contemporary wealth was built on historic exploitation of colonial resources.⁶⁵ Following this and other acts of vandalism, the local council had altered the information boards at the monument in 2016, acknowledging more openly the nature of Belgian complicity in the ills of empire.⁶⁶

Yet, this was not the end of the story. In February 2019, an activist interrupted an appearance by Belgium’s Culture Minister to display the hand and demand concessions before its return:

We are willing to give back the hand but then we want a guarantee that there will be apologies from the royal house for the misdeeds in the former colony [...] That it is admitted that our colonial past was a mess. And that we hand over the [...] teeth of the murdered prime minister Patrice Lumumba, which are kept in the Palais de Justice in Brussels, to his relatives. It is the only thing left of the man. Then his family can finally officially bury him.⁶⁷

This removal of the statue’s hand and the subsequent demands saw debates around the decolonization of museums and statues collide with sharp debates around the personal impact of colonial atrocities, the lingering power structures which committed them, and the need for wider education about the colonial past. The statue’s missing hand opened a dialogue which has helped to illustrate the complex and interlinking ways in which decolonization calls for cultural and political reckonings, and the ways in which the colonial past echoes in contemporary society. Importantly, however, this dialogue cannot remain one conducted only in Belgium’s Senate and newspapers but needs to reach out and include those communities who were subject to the state’s imperial ambitions and violence.

Campaigns to rename a Brussels square after Patrice Lumumba were coordinated by a group called “Mémoire Coloniale et Lutte contre les Discriminations” (CMCLD, Colonial Memory and Struggle against Discrimination), which draws together African associations from across Belgium’s federal communities. The renaming had originally been proposed in the Matongé quarter in Ixelles, Brussels, an area around the *Maison Africaine* where Congolese students settled in 1961 which continues to enjoy a strong diasporic character.⁶⁸ Yet, the local council refused. After further campaigning, however, the City of Brussels Council approved the inauguration of Patrice Lumumba Square in April 2018.⁶⁹ In charting efforts to respond to campaigns for greater representation, the experience of the Belgian Royal Museum for Central Africa in Tervuren is also useful, involving teams of Belgian and Congolese scholars to plan ongoing exhibitions and re-interpret permanent exhibitions to acknowledge the history of a colonial institution.⁷⁰ In some ways, the history of this museum founded in 1910 had charted Belgium’s engagement with decolonisation, with its outdated ethnographic displays and glorification of Belgium’s civilizing mission in the Congo dominating a national colonial memory.⁷¹ Yet, as responses to that renewal of colonial exhibits showed (and continues to show in subsequent engagements), Belgians have a lot of work still to do. The museum’s project to reconstruct a pacified “shared memory” of colonialism, skirts too closely to the definition of decolonisation from above outlined in the first section of this chapter. The inclusion of the diasporic community was criticised as tokenistic

and sporadic, and the CMCLD diagnosed a “missed decolonization” in this memory work, offering to continue to work alongside the Museum towards this goal if invited.⁷² Indeed, this critique foregrounds the definition of decolonization reformulated by Pan-Africanist thinkers as a participatory and ongoing project, and shows the extent to which the project is incomplete.

The UN Working Group of Experts on People of African Descent recently completed a report on Belgium’s efforts to engage with the past, taking in the controversies mentioned so far.⁷³ Their statement noted that “public discourse does not reflect a nuanced understanding of how institutions may drive systemic exclusion from education, employment, and opportunity.” In particular, it singled out the profusion of monuments glorifying the imperial past as a symbol of the ways in which this exclusion took root. One of their recommendations gave a strong sense of what decolonization could look like in Belgium:

We urge the government to give recognition and visibility to those who were killed during the period of colonization, to Congolese soldiers who fought during the two World Wars, and to acknowledge the cultural, economic, political and scientific contributions of people of African descent to the development of Belgian society through the establishment of monuments, memorial sites, street names, schools, municipal, regional and federal buildings. This should be done in consultation with civil society.

The story of Belgium’s reckoning is not completed by an informative note attached to a colonial statue, the re-naming of a public square, nor the reconditioning of a museum exhibit. It is advanced by official acknowledgements and apologies, yet, as shown by the case of Lumumba’s teeth, difficult legacies can remain hidden, and apologies do not complete it. As Césaire warned “the salvation of Europe is not a matter of a revolution in methods.”⁷⁴ More important is the engagement of Belgian society in the reparative work of decolonization and for example, involving the family of Lumumba in reclaiming his remains, or the diaspora in the work of their own representation. These debates around statues, school curricula, museums and memory display an important element in the discussion of decolonization, Pan-Africanism, and the post-colonial African diaspora.

Conclusion

Decolonization, then, is not simply anti-colonial action, nor the transfer of power from a former coloniser to liberated peoples. It is not in itself a project wholly satisfied by an apology for past wrongs, nor the repatriation of looted trophies. It remains an ongoing project to identify and alter structures which continue to support the lingering systems of oppression tied to the racialised politics and violence which made these crimes possible in the first instance. This piece has explored how decolonization was conceived by European thinkers as a process from above, though was then actively reformulated by Pan-Africanist thinkers as an ongoing participatory project, before examining how the tensions between these understandings are still at play in a contemporary context. This chapter has sought to probe different contexts in which decolonization can be understood as intersecting with themes of Pan-Africanism, showing how the term has shifted in usage and meaning around the end of formal empires. In scholarly discussion, the concept of decolonization has shifted from the iniquities of being understood as independence from above, as made clear in the coup against Lumumba, towards the reprise of African agency, painted luridly in the figure of the poetic Lumumba at the heart of Césaire’s play. Yet it also comprises of the grisly legacies that

linger in contemporary power structures governing cultural relationships and knowledge, as we can see in the debate around Lumumba's teeth. Césaire pointed to "universalizing, living values that had not been exhausted" as a shining light for decolonization, without being "dazzled by European civilization."⁷⁵ This stresses the importance of Pan-African solidarity in understanding decolonization as a project stretching beyond the confines of the nation state, while retaining a focus on the revolutionary and expressive work of defining national cultures. In his clear-eyed assessment of the violence inherent in imperialism, he set out the impossibility of decolonization being achieved from above. Instead, decolonization became a work of discovery and assertion, demolishing oppressive structures whilst creating new syntheses, and pursuing a "universal enriched by all that is particular, a universal enriched by every particular: the deepening and coexistence of all particulars."⁷⁶

Notes

- 1 Aimé Césaire, *A Season in the Congo* (London: Seagull, 2010), 155.
- 2 Aimé Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2000), 55.
- 3 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 3.
- 4 Todd Shephard, *The Invention of Decolonization* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 2006), 5.
- 5 Charles-Robert Ageron, *Modern Algeria: A History from 1830 to the Present* (London: Hurst, 1991), 9–14.
- 6 Jean-Jacques Hémardinque, "Henri Fonfrède ou l'homme du Midi révolté (1827–1836)", *Annales du Midi: revue archéologique, historique et philologique de la France méridionale*, 88:129 (1976), 458–460.
- 7 See Michael Collins, "Nation, state and agency: evolving historiographies of African decolonization", in Andrew WM Smith and Chris Jeppesen, *Britain, France and the Decolonization of Africa: Future Imperfect?* (London: UCL Press, 2017), 20.
- 8 Benoit Daviron, "Mobilizing labour in African agriculture: the role of the International Colonial Institute in the elaboration of a standard of colonial administration, 1895–1930", *Journal of Global History*, 5:3 (2010), 479.
- 9 "Development of Colonies (From our Hague Correspondent)", *The Times* (London, England), 14 June 1927, Issue 44,607, 15.
- 10 "ROLIN (Henri Eugène Auguste Marie)", *Biographie Belge d'Outre-Mer*, vol.6 (Brussels: Académie Royale des Sciences d'Outre-Mer, 1968), col.869–881.
- 11 On the 1900 Pan-African Congress, see Marika Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa and the African Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2011). On the 1945 Congress, see Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *The 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress Revisited* (London: New Beacon Books, 1995).
- 12 Kehinde Andrews, "Beyond Pan-Africanism: Garveyism, Malcolm X and the end of the colonial nation state", *Third World Quarterly*, 38:11 (2017), 2501–2516.
- 13 Marika Sherwood, 'Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953: What did "Pan-Africanism mean?"', *The Journal of Pan-African Studies*, 4:10 (2012), 106–126; Adi and Sherwood, *The 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress Revisited*, 102–112; Vincent Doodoo and Wilhelmina Donkoh, "Nationality and the Pan-African State" in *Pan-Africanism and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity*, eds Toyin Faola and Kwame Essien (London: Routledge, 2013), 151–171.
- 14 R. Koselleck & M. Richter, "Crisis", *Journal of the History of Ideas*, 67:2 (2006), 371–372.
- 15 Paul Mus, "Le Chemin De La Décolonisation", *Esprit*, 217:8 (1954), 227–46.
- 16 Christoph Kalter, *The Discovery of the Third World: Decolonization and the Rise of the New Left in France, C.1950–1976* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2016), 420.
- 17 Martin Shipway, "The wind of change and the tides of history: de Gaulle, Macmillan and the beginnings of the French decolonizing endgame", in Larry J. Butler and Sarah Stockwell (eds.), *The wind of change: Harold Macmillan and British decolonization* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013), 180–94.
- 18 Todd Shephard, *The Invention of Decolonization* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 2006), 5.
- 19 Stuart Ward, "The European Provenance of Decolonization", *Past & Present*, 230:1 (2016), 229.
- 20 Collins, "Nation, state and agency", 18–26.

- 21 J van Lierde (ed), *La pensée politique de Patrice Lumumba* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1963), 11.
- 22 Shephard, *The Invention of Decolonization*, 7.
- 23 Gary Wilder, *Freedom Time: Négritude, Decolonization and the Future of the World* (Duke University Press, 2015), 202.
- 24 Frantz Fanon, *Towards the African Revolution* (New York: Grove Press, 1994), 196.
- 25 Césaire, *A Season in the Congo*, 22.
- 26 See Reiland Rabaka, *The Négritude Movement: W.E.B. Du Bois, Léon Damas, Aimé Césaire, Léopold Senghor, Frantz Fanon, and the Evolution of an Insurgent Idea*, (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2015)
- 27 Leslie James, *George Padmore and Decolonization from below: Pan-Africanism, the Cold War, and the End of Empire* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2015), 66.
- 28 Bart Moore-Gilbert, *Postcolonial Theory: Contexts, Practices, Politics* (Verso, 1997), 172; Reiland Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism: Frantz Fanon's Critical Theory and the Dialectics of Decolonization* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2010), 105–112.
- 29 Aimé Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism* (Monthly Review Press, 2000), 33.
- 30 See especially T. Denean Sharpley-Whiting, *Négritude Women* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2002), which outlines the political lives of Jane and Paulette Nardal, as well as the activism of Suzanne Césaire. For a study of the formation of anti-colonial networks in Paris, see Michael Goebel, *Anti-Imperial Metropolis: Interwar Paris and the Seeds of Third World Nationalism* (Cambridge University Press, 2015); Daniel Brückenhau, *Policing Transnational Protest: Liberal Imperialism and the Surveillance of Anticolonialists in Europe, 1905–1945* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017).
- 31 Camille Lefebvre, “La décolonisation d’un lieu commun. L’artificialité des frontières africaines: un legs intellectuel colonial devenu étendard de l’anticolonialisme”, *Revue d'Histoire des Sciences Humaines*, 24:1, (2011), 78.
- 32 Robin DG Kelley, “A Poetics of Anticolonialism”, *Monthly Review*, 51:6 (1999), 1–21
- 33 Alioune Diop, “Discours d’ouverture”, *Présence Africaine*, 3:8–10 (1956), 9.
- 34 Importantly, this does not discount that work. For a much fuller engagement with the political and cultural projects of the “Bandung Era” see Christopher J. Lee (ed.), *Making a World After Empire: The Bandung Moment and its Political Afterlives* (Athens: Ohio University Press, 2010).
- 35 Robbie Shilliam, “Colonial Architecture or Relatable Hinterlands”, *Constellations* 23:3 (2015), 425–435
- 36 Antoinette Burton, “Introduction: On the Inadequacy and Indispensability of the Nation”, in *After the Imperial Turn: Thinking with and through nations*, ed. Antoinette Burton (Duke University Press, 2003), 1–23; Frederick Cooper, “Alternatives to Nationalism in French Africa, 1945–60”, in *Elites and Decolonization in the Twentieth Century* (ed.s) Jost Dülffer and Marc Frey (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2011), 110–137.
- 37 Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism*, 76.
- 38 Guiridex Massé, “Cold War and Black Transnationalism: Aimé Césaire and Mercer Cook at the First International Congress of Black Writers and Artists”, *Palimpsest: A Journal on Women, Gender, and the Black International*, 4:2 (2015), 116. The presence of the conference in Paris was testament to the importance of African diaspora to this understanding of anti-colonialism. For more discussion of the development of the African diaspora and its identity in Britain, see Hakim Adi, *West Africans in Britain 1900–1960: Nationalism, Pan-Africanism and Communism* (London: Lawrence and Wishart, 1998); Marc Matera, *Black London: The Imperial Metropolis and Decolonization in the Twentieth Century* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2015); Kennetta Hammond Perry, *London is the place for me: Black Britons, Citizenship and the Politics of Race* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015)
- 39 Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism*, 88; Aimé Césaire, “Letter to Maurice Thorez”, *Social Text* 103, 28:2 (2010), 145–152.
- 40 Aimé Césaire, “Culture and Colonisation”, *Social Text* 103, 28:2 (2010), 131.
- 41 Césaire, “Culture and Colonisation”, 142.
- 42 Franz Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 233
- 43 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 144–145.
- 44 Mbukeni Herbert Mnguni, *Education as a Social Institution and Ideological Process* (New York: Waxmann Verlag, 1998), 122.
- 45 Fanon, *Wretched of the Earth*, 166.
- 46 Andrew WM Smith, “African Dawn: Keïta Fodéba and the Imagining of National Culture in Guinea”, *Historical Reflections/Réflexions Historiques*, 43:3 (2017), 102–121.

- 47 Fanon, *Wretched of the Earth*, 183.
- 48 Ama Biney, *The Political and Social Thought of Kwame Nkrumah* (Springer, 2011), 130–133.
- 49 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 197.
- 50 Julie-Françoise Tolliver, “Césaire/Lumumba: a season of solidarity”, *Journal of Postcolonial Writing*, 50:4 (2014), 398–409. John Kent, “The US and Decolonization in Central Africa, 1957–64”, in L. J. Butler and Sarah Stockwell (ed.s), *The Wind of Change: Harold Macmillan and British Decolonization* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2013), 203.
- 51 Elizabeth Buettner, *Europe after Empire: Decolonization, Society and Culture* (Cambridge University Press, 2016), 425. On Tintin, Hergé and empire, see Hugo Frey, “Contagious colonial diseases in Hergé’s The adventures of Tintin”, *Modern & Contemporary France*, 12:2 (2004), 177–188. See also, Hugo Frey, “Tintin: The extreme right-wing and the 70th anniversary debates”, *Modern & Contemporary France*, 7:3 (1999), 361–363; Pascal Lefèvre, “The Congo Drawn in Belgium”, in Mark McKinney (ed.), *History and Politics in French-Language Comics and Graphic Novels* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2008), 166–185.
- 52 Elizabeth Buettner, *Europe after Empire: Decolonization, Society and Culture* (Cambridge University Press, 2016), 422. See also, Guido Gryseels, Gabrielle Landry, and Koeki Claessens, “Integrating the Past: Transformation and Renovation of the Royal Museum for Central Africa, Tervuren, Belgium”, *European Review*, 13:3 (2005), 637–647; Jean Muteba Rahier, “The Ghost of Leopold II: The Belgian Royal Museum of Central Africa and Its Dusty Colonialist Exhibition”, *Research in African Literatures*, 34:1 (2003), 58–84.
- 53 Gerard Soete, *De Arena: Het Verhaal van de moord op Lumumba* (Bruges: Uitgeverij Raaklijn, 1978).
- 54 Idesbald Goddeeris, “Colonial Streets and Statues: Postcolonial Belgium in the Public Space”, *Postcolonial Studies*, 18:4 (2015), 397–409; Idesbald Goddeeris, “Postcolonial Belgium: The Memory of the Congo”, *Interventions: International Journal of Postcolonial Studies*, 17:3 (2015), 434–451; Adam Hochschild, *King Leopold’s Ghost: A Story of Greed, Terror, and Heroism in Colonial Africa* (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1998); Ludo De Witte, *The Assassination of Lumumba* (London: Verso, 2001).
- 55 Gauthier de Villers, “Histoire, justice et politique”, *Cahiers d’études africaines*, 173–174 (2004), 197–198.
- 56 de Villers, “Histoire, justice et politique”, 197–198.
- 57 “De moord op Lumumba: de dochter van de lijkruimer spreekt”, *HUMO*, 16/01/2016. [www.humo.be/humo-archief/360145/de-moord-op-lumumba-de-dochter-van-de-lijkruimer-spreekt] Accessed 27/02/2019.
- 58 Sabine Cessou, “Belgique: à Bruxelles, le square Lumumba ne met pas fin aux débats”, *RFI*, 21/08/2018. [www.rfi.fr/europe/20180821-belgique-bruxelles-square-lumumba-debats-colonisation-histoire-rdc] Accessed: 27/02/2019.
- 59 Gauthier de Villers, “Histoire, justice et politique”, *Cahiers d’études africaines*, 173–174 (2004).
- 60 *White King, Red Rubber, Black Death* (dir. Peter Bate, 2003).
- 61 “Question orale de M. Josy Dubié à la vice-première ministre et ministre de la Justice sur «l’inculpation d’un journaliste refusant de révéler ses sources»”. *Annals*, Belgian Senate, 29 March 2007, nr. 3–1479.
- 62 Timmy van Assche, “Afgehakte hand van Leopold II-beeld duikt op, maar Oostends stadsbestuur wil ze niet terug: ‘Beeld zonder hand is sterker statement’”, *Het Laatste Nieuws*, 22/02/2019 [www.hln.be/regio/oostende/afgehakte-hand-van-leopold-ii-beeld-duikt-op-maar-oostends-stadsbestuur-wil-ze-niet-terug-beeld-zonder-hand-is-sterker-statement~a5209f04/] Accessed: 27/02/2019
- 63 Eddy Surmont, “Le mystère de la main sectionnée”, *Le Soir*, 27/03/2007, quoted in Julien Bobineau, “The Historical Taboo: Colonial Discourses and Postcolonial Identities in Belgium”, *Werkwinkel*, 12:1 (2017), 113.
- 64 “Question orale de M. Josy Dubié à la vice-première ministre et ministre de la Justice sur «l’inculpation d’un journaliste refusant de révéler ses sources»”. *Annals*, Belgian Senate, 29 March 2007, nr. 3–1479.
- 65 Julien Bobineau, “The Historical Taboo: Colonial Discourses and Postcolonial Identities in Belgium”, *Werkwinkel*, 12:1 (2017), 113.
- 66 Joris Truys, “Nieuw infobord bij omstreden standbeeld van Leopold II in Oostende”, *VRT Dutch*, 11/09/2016 [www.vrt.be/vrtnws/nl/2016/09/11/nieuw_infobord_bijomstredenstandbeeldvanleopoldiioostende-1-2764959/] Accessed: 27/02/2019

- 67 Daniel Boffey, "Reappearance of statue's missing hand reignites colonial row", *The Guardian*, 22/02/2019. [www.theguardian.com/world/2019/feb/22/statue-missing-hand-colonial-belgium-leopold-congo]. Accessed 27/02/2019.
- 68 As noted by Idesbald Godeeris, "Due to the limited number of Congolese people and the varied experiences of other Sub-Saharan migrants, the African diaspora in Belgium does not succeed in occupying much space in the postcolonial memory." Idesbald Godeeris, "Colonial Streets and Statues: Postcolonial Belgium in the Public Space", *Postcolonial Studies*, 18:4 (2015), 404.
- 69 "Facing the truths of Belgium's colonial past: The unresolved case of Patrice Lumumba's death", *Brussels Times*, 11/09/2018 [www.brusselstimes.com/magazine2/12498/facing-the-truths-of-belgium-s-colonial-past-the-unresolved-case-of-patrice-lumumba-s-death], accessed 11/03/2019.
- 70 Guido Gryseels, Gabrielle Landry, and Koeki Claessens, "Integrating the Past: Transformation and Renovation of the Royal Museum for Central Africa, Tervuren, Belgium", *European Review*, 13:3 (2005), 635–647;
- 71 Jean Muteba Rahier, "The ghost of Leopold II: the Belgian Royal Museum of Central Africa and its dusty colonialist exhibition", *Research in African Literature*, 34:1, (2003), 58–84; Aurélie Roger, "D'une mémoire coloniale à une mémoire du colonial. La reconversion chaotique du Musée Royal de l'Afrique Centrale, ancien musée du Congo Belge", *Cadernos de Estudos Africanos*, 1:9/10 (2006), 1–17.
- 72 Collectif Mémoire Coloniale et Lutte contre les Discriminations, "Communiqué: Réouverture du Musée Royal d'Afrique Centrale—une décolonisation manquée", 01/03/2019 [www.memoirecoloniale.be/communiques/communiqu%C3%A9-reouverture-du-mus%C3%A9e-royal-dafrique-centrale-une-decolonisation-manqu%C3%A9e], accessed 11/03/2019. Teri Schultz, "Belgium's revamped Africa Museum faces a dark colonial legacy", *Deutsche Welle*, 08/12/2018 [www.dw.com/en/belgiums-revamped-africa-museum-faces-a-dark-colonial-legacy/a-46629177], accessed 11/03/2019.
- 73 "Statement to the media by the United Nations Working Group of Experts on People of African Descent, on the conclusion of its official visit to Belgium", 11/02/2019 [www.ohchr.org/EN/NewsEvents/Pages/DisplayNews.aspx?NewsID=24153&LangID=E], accessed: 11/03/2019.
- 74 Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism*, 78.
- 75 Césaire, *Discourse on Colonialism*, 92.
- 76 Césaire, "Letter to Maurice Thorez", 152.

Africanization

Historical and normative dimensions

Esperanza Brizuela-Garcia

Introduction

The concept of Africanization has been a recurrent theme in academic and policy discussions since the era of African independence. It has been used to address a variety of questions in a diverse range of contexts. In this essay, I suggest that it is possible to classify these uses into two general categories. First, scholars, particularly historians, anthropologists and other social scientists, have used the concept of Africanization as a tool to examine the continent's dynamic history of exchange and interaction. In its historical dimension, the concept of Africanization, has served a descriptive or interpretative role aimed at explaining how African societies have been affected by their contact with non-African societies and vice-versa.

A second dimension of the concept has been used to specifically criticize the use of Western disciplines or systems of knowledge for the study of African realities. In its normative dimension, the concept of Africanization is used to address the destruction of African cultures and values through the processes of slave trade, colonialism and neo-colonialism. The argument that is often presented is that cultural and social practices as well as institutions ought to be Africanized for the benefit of African communities.

In the remainder of this paper I will explain how these two dimensions of the concept of Africanization have appeared in academic and policy discussions. I will provide a few examples of these uses in an attempt to illustrate that even though the goals pursued within these two contexts are different, their usefulness and relevance depends largely on being able to rely on one another. It is important to note that the examples provided in this essay are not exhaustive. The concept of Africanization is used more widely than the few examples used in this paper. In this paper, I have limited myself to examples that specifically use the concept.

Historical Africanization

Scholarly interest in the concept of Africanization is closely connected to the question of African agency. Colonial and post-colonial discourses questioned whether Africans could be seen as effective builders of society and culture and active participants in their own history.

Among the many myths historians have tried to dispel are those that explained any signs of progress or sophistication among African societies as the result of external influences. The Senegalese historian Cheik Anta Diop, for example, was one of the first to try to “Africanize” Egypt, by asserting that it was in fact an African society.¹ However, he offered little exploration of the complex dynamics of exchange that connected Egypt with the Mediterranean world and even less with the larger African continent. Despite its shortcomings, Diop touched on two important questions that continue to guide the work of scholars interested in the study of African societies: First, what has been the place of Africa in world history? And, second, are modern scholarly methods adequate for the study of African realities? Diop understood that arguing for the African origins of Egypt was not just an exercise in historical research, but an argument for how historical research needed to change. In this regard, he realized the dual dimensions of the Africanization question even though the execution of his argument had many flaws. A wealth of research has been done since Diop published his work and it demonstrates that having developed at the center of four major cultural regions (the Mediterranean, the Near East, the Indian Ocean, and the Atlantic ocean), Africa and its peoples have experienced momentous environmental changes that have encouraged large internal movements of peoples and ideas, but also presented significant obstacles for outsiders who have tried to settle within its shores. The trans-Atlantic and trans-Saharan trade also created large diasporic communities of African peoples throughout the globe. All of these have combined to create societies that have been at the center of global history in some ways, but also quite isolated in others. Under these conditions, the question of what makes an African community or culture authentically African is one that is impossible to answer in the abstract, and also a question that has been used to justify the exploitation of African peoples. African peoples are diverse, complex and, despite what colonial thinkers might have believed, continuously evolving. These are societies that have secured their survival through constant innovation and change. The question for scholars then, is not what it means to be African, but how have these meanings changed throughout time and how they have been informed by cultural, social, economic and academic exchanges among peoples from inside and outside the continent.

In his groundbreaking work on the Africanization of Mozambican *Prazos*, the historian Allen Isaacman concluded that “One of the overriding themes in African history has been the impact of population diffusion on the nature and direction of change in the receiving areas.”² Isaacman’s investigation illustrates the centrality of the Africanization question in the study of African societies and those in the diaspora. Ultimately, these communities have been shaped not just by their connections with one another but also with non-African societies. As a historical question, Africanization tries to understand how historical processes such as slavery, commerce, migration and colonialism have left an indelible mark on African peoples, and how said communities in turn, have affected the course of world history.

Isaacman identified four levels at which these contacts can take place, and these give us a useful reminder of the complexity of these exchanges. In his analysis, the interaction between migrant groups and African populations produced four basic patterns:

First, those instances in which the imposition of cultural and political forms for the migrants led to profound changes in the indigenous population. Second, those instances in which migrant groups introduced some new institutions and ideas, generally in the political sphere, but had only a limited cultural impact and tended themselves to be absorbed into the dominant local culture. Third, those instances in which the impact of the stranger group remained almost negligible and absorption of strangers was rapid and

complete. Fourth, those instances in which the fusion of the two groups resulted in the emergence of a new ethnic and cultural unit.³

This classification underlines the diversity and complexity of experience that can be derived even in a relatively small region of Africa during a particular period of time. Yet, by the author's own admission, this represents but the broadest generalization. As he concludes that "Rather than initiating radical change, the *prazeros* tended to be absorbed into the predominant local culture. Such generalization, however, must be treated with the utmost care since the cultural variations between a family which resided in the Zambesi for six months and one which had lived there for six generations were obviously enormous".⁴

Isaacman's analysis underlines the wide range of outcomes that different forms of cultural exchange could produce and that could be categorized under the umbrella of Africanization. Similar examples can be found all over the historical and anthropological literature. The question of religious change in the context of the expansion of world religions offers many instances of this. A central preoccupation of both the study of Islam and Christianity in Africa has been how did African societies receive these world religions and what were the changes elicited by these contacts. As Isaacman could have predicted, the picture that emerges from the literature is varied and complex. In both cases, studies have shown that Christianity and Islam not only came to thrive among African communities, but were also transformed in the process.⁵

Among the many examples one can find of these works, one can turn to an article by Anne Vermeyden where she examines the life of Mabel Easton Busye, an American Evangelical missionary who worked in the African Inland Mission in 1917. According to Vermeyden "...During her time in Africa, Easton Busye's understanding of Christianity was challenged as she witnessed Alur, Lugbara and Zande Christians integrate their faith into their own cultural contexts."⁶ In the case of Easton Busye, the experience of Christianity in a different continent changed the meaning of Christianity for the missionary woman. Moreover, as the author concludes, the process highlighted the role that Africans played in the establishment and growth of Christian practices among their communities:

Just as evangelical missionaries were responsible for initially bringing the Christian message to the area around Lake Albert, Africans were responsible for much of the faith, and even for encouraging missionaries to think critically about their own faith assumptions. This agency of both missionaries and Africans is what has given the church in East Africa its shape.⁷

A significant portion of the literature that explicitly uses the concept of Africanization examines how Africans came to occupy influential positions in cultural or political institutions that were not created by Africans, particularly those imposed on them during colonialism. Concerns about this kind of Africanization were present during colonial times and, most importantly, in the years that immediately followed independence. A wealth of literature has been devoted to what was called the "Africanization" of the civil service or government more generally, however, it also affected mid and upper level positions in educational and cultural institutions. This literature has shown that the Africanization of personnel, as a means of transforming colonial institutions, has in itself a complicated past.⁸

The Africanization of the workforce was neither easy to achieve, nor a simple solution to the challenge of Africanizing colonial institutions. Branwyn Poleykett and Peter Mangesho offer an insightful example of the complex dynamics of Africanization within a single

institutional setting: The National Institute for Medical Research Amani Hill Station located in the Eastern Usambaras in north eastern Tanzania. The authors describe how an educated African workforce worked towards the Africanization of the institution and conclude that “the debates and practices of Africanization emerged out of antagonistic labour relations, and that Africanization at Amani was experienced more forcefully – by Africans and Europeans alike – as increasingly contentious and problematic labour relations surfaced, and as vociferous claims to the cultural power of science were made by African workers”.⁹

The example of Amani demonstrates that attempts to Africanize colonial institutions had to contend with a multiplicity of interests that could not be simply distinguished as “African” or “European.” African workers at Amani saw themselves as more than just Africans. They understood themselves as laborers and scientists and they were determined to pursue their multifaceted goals sometimes in the face of obstacles imposed by their own, newly created African governments. The authors conclude that:

The archive reveals Amani to have been closely connected not only to local labour economies but also to national and regional political institutions through the mobility and political activity of African employees. This ability to work on the scale at which scientific research operates – to localize, Africanize or globalize scientific production – is clearly not distributed equally between actors. Today, so-called ‘global’ science is often synonymous with international partnerships that lock African researchers into complex, transnational hierarchies that are difficult to query or to resist. The stories traced in this paper, however, remind us that ‘global’ places such as Amani have always been connected to the world through close ties created by African ambition and by African labor.¹⁰

These few examples of historical Africanization illustrate that African societies have a long history of contact, exchange, adaptation and even rejection of ideas and practices introduced by non-African peoples. They also show that answering questions such as what it means to be African? or What it means to Africanize something? Is not an abstract exercise. Such exercise should be grounded in an understanding of how African societies have changed, and continue to change, in response to both local, national, and global challenges. In this sense, historical Africanization serves the purpose of informing an ongoing process described by former Vice-Chancellor of the University of Natal, Malegapuru William Makgoba when he wrote that:

Africanisation is not about expelling Europeans and their cultures, but about affirming African culture and their identity in a world community. It is not a process of exclusion, but of inclusion...[I]t is a learning process and a way of life for Africans. It involves incorporating, adapting and integrating other cultures into and through African visions to provide the dynamism, evolution and flexibility so essential in the global village. Africanisation is the process of defining or interpreting African identity and culture. It is informed by the experience of the African diaspora and has endured and matured over time from the narrow nationalistic intolerance to an accommodating, realistic and global form.¹¹

History has shown that African societies have been engaged in this process of “defining or interpreting African identity and culture” for millennia. The challenge and goal for those engaged in studying the historical dimensions of Africanization is to produce solid and

rigorous scholarship that can help us understand the changing meanings of what it means to be African. By doing this, scholars will also be able to question and inform the systems of knowledge that are used to examine African realities and their relationship to the rest of the world, which takes us to the normative dimension of Africanization.

Normative Africanization

Despite the prevalence and centrality of the concept of Africanization in the historical context, one is more likely to find the concept discussed in a normative context. These debates place particular emphasis on the need to Africanize education and, more broadly, Africanize the methods and concepts through which knowledge is produced and disseminated. The basic premise underlining normative uses of the concept of Africanization states that European systems of knowledge and European institutions cannot adequately guide the exploration of African realities and cannot serve the needs of African peoples; thus, they have to be replaced by African forms of knowledge and African institutions. For instance, in an article published in 2001, Andre Le Roux makes the case that African education needs to be grounded in “African forms of knowledge.”¹² This is a common concern among many commentators, although, it is not always clear what these Africans systems of knowledge are and what should be their role. Even in instances where specific examples of African forms of knowledge are identified – as Sipho Seepe does in his chapter about Mathematical knowledge – there are not clear roadmaps about the ways in which they are to be used as foundations for a new educational systems or curricula.¹³

Theology is another field where one often finds calls for Africanization. Rothney Tshaka states that: “Current theological discourse is Western in its very nature...Primarily, the reason for the continued hegemony of Western forms of knowledge production is a result of the inherent disregard that those in the West had for Africa and her purported inability to produce ‘true knowledge.’” And he continues “...our *raison d’etre* is nothing less than the attempt to unhinge Africa from the Western episteme.”¹⁴ Yet later in his conclusions he seems to ask that said episteme not be eliminated but informed by the experiences of Africans: “Africanization means that the story of the old lady who questioned structures of knowledge production in a context where the dominant refuses to credit African epistemology as ‘proper knowledge,’ has to be told and retold.”¹⁵

Examples of normative Africanization often sustain that Africa has been victim to an “epistemicide:”

First generation colonialism was the conquering of the physical spaces and bodies of the colonized, and the second generation colonialism was the colonization of the mind through disciplines, such as education, science, economics and law [...] colonization concerned an unequal exchange of cultures and as a consequence, the decimation (‘murder of knowledge’) – epistemicide.¹⁶

A more precise definition of the term is presented by Dennis Masaka in his article about the Africanization of Philosophy: “‘epistemicide’ as the partial or near total destruction of one knowledge paradigm by hegemonic cultures with the objective of presenting their own as the dominant one.”¹⁷ The notion of an “epistemicide” seems to at least partially contradict what the historical study of Africanization has suggested, that is, that contacts between African and non-African cultures has resulted in a variety of outcomes. While it is quite possible to find instances in which African values and ideas were destroyed, undermined and

replaced, it is also the case that the study of African peoples and experiences has in itself effected some changes in Western paradigms of knowledge. The relevant question for scholars is to explain, in more specific terms, what has been the nature of the exchanges, and what have been the outcomes.

In an article published in 2006 I examined the question of Africanization in the context of Anglophone Africanist historiography. In that piece I pointed out that two factors explained the importance of the Africanization concept in the development of African Studies. First, being that the modern study of Africa emerged in the context of decolonization and nationalism, scholars were particularly committed to the study of African agency, we have in fact seen that the study of historical Africanization was largely the result of this commitment. Second, in light of the gradual decline of many African institutions, much of the research produced by Africans has struggled entering, let alone leading, the research agendas that were more often established in European and North American research centers. Even when historians and other scholars have effectively documented the vibrancy of African agency in the past. It is clear that many obstacles remain for Africans to fully participate in the production of knowledge about their own continent.¹⁸

This pervasive and prevalent inequality is what the concept of normative Africanization is trying to address. In this context, Africanization is seen as a way of redressing or correcting the outcomes of an unequal pattern of exchange in which African communities have seen their own cultural and social values undermined and thus their ability to respond to their own problems has been diminished. In this context, Africanization is understood as a means to restore and/or recover questions, values, systems of knowledge that were dismissed and nearly destroyed during colonial and post-colonial times. For instance, the philosopher Magobe Bertrand Ramose once wrote:

Africanisation holds that the African experience in its totality is simultaneously the foundation and the source for the construction of all forms of knowledge... Africanisation... holds that different foundations exist for the construction of pyramids of knowledge. It disclaims the view that any pyramid is by its very nature eminently superior to all others. It is a serious quest for a radical and veritable change of paradigm so that the African may enter into a genuine and critical dialogical encounter with other pyramids of knowledge. Africanisation is a conscious and deliberate assertion of nothing more and nothing less than the right to be African.¹⁹

There are a number of problems with this view. First, this position relies on an essentialized view of Africa. The notion that African experience is or should be the foundation and source for the construction of all forms of knowledge suggests that knowledge is to be evaluated solely on the basis of its perceived "Africity." As the earlier examination of historical Africanization showed, there is no single or simple or abstract way for making this determination. Raymond Suttner, for instance, argues that the concept of Africanization needs to be dynamic and flexible if it is to be a useful conceptual and analytical tool. In his view, any use of the idea of Africanization should resist the essentialism that is often inherent in the concept:

Any curriculum development in a liberated and emancipatory South Africa should operate with the assumption of contestation, rather than essentialist notions of all Africans thinking in the same way, always, and at all times. Essentialism is depicting such African

thinking as always-already there and obvious, just waiting to be found and discovered as having a univocal and clear meaning.²⁰

Suttner establishes a clear and vital connection between the historical and normative dimensions of the Africanization question. In his view, Africanization should be seen as the process through which the question of what it means to be African should be continuously debated. Suttner acknowledges that so called Western paradigms cannot be universalized even in the regions where they originated, so the question as to whether they are suitable to address problems in Africa is one that should be examined on a case by case basis and always in light of an understanding of particular historical conditions.²¹

Other critics complain that essentialized calls for Africanization distract from the existence of concrete conditions that prevent Africans from achieving social progress and equality. In his critique of Africanisation the psychologist Wahbie Long concludes that:

The looming danger, however, is that the recent escalation of essentializing, racializing and polarizing discourse in South African public life will spawn yet another round of essentialist attempts at 'Africanizing' the discipline that – if the past is anything to go by – will result once again in theoretical and practical dead-ends. With politicians resorting to invocations of 'race' in last-ditch attempts at papering over the cracks in their constituencies, we would do well to reflect, as psychologists, on the staggering levels of class inequality in our country. Being 'African' has less to do, surely, with cultural uniqueness than material exploitation – and an 'African' psychology that ignores this, does so at its peril.²²

Both Suttner and Long suggest that Africanization, understood as the process of defining what it means to be African, should focus on concrete historical experiences rather than on trying to define an African essence. In this regard, they support a stronger connection between the goals of historical and normative Africanization. But these critiques do not explicitly or directly address the second problem, what should be the criteria to validate knowledge that is to be taught to African students and thus serve as the foundation for Africa's future development?

Ramose's view that by rejecting the idea that one pyramid of knowledge is superior to others, Africans will be able to "enter into a genuine and critical dialogical encounter with other pyramids of knowledge" may lead to the problem of an extreme relativism. Asserting an abstract equality among different systems of knowledge does not, by itself, enable them to meaningfully communicate or interact. Furthermore, equality alone does not offer epistemic criteria to determine how ideas from different systems of knowledge can be discussed or evaluated. In fact, it precludes the possibility to critically examine specific systems of knowledge and bypasses the historical question of whether said systems were and/or continue to be useful and effective and why. The question then is how can African ideas, concepts and practices inform the ways in which knowledge is validated.

The philosopher Kai Horsthemke examines this question by first looking at the Africanization of practical knowledge, that is, the project of legitimizing traditional African practices such as healing, basket weaving, conflict resolution, etc. However, he admits that legal or cultural legitimacy that could or should be granted to these practices does not resolve the question of their epistemic value.²³ In other words, one may agree that there is a social or cultural value in trying to preserve and protect knowledge of traditional practices, but this has nothing to do with the question of whether they constitute valid knowledge.

When looking at the question of African knowledge understood in the factual or propositional sense, he concluded that the idea of Africanizing knowledge injects an extreme relativism that would render it almost meaningless. He reminds us that for a statement to be recognized as knowledge it needs to fulfill three conditions: belief, truth and justification. For the purposes of his argument, he offered a slightly modified definition that states that:

A person (S) knows that something is the case (p) if and only if:

S believes that *p*,
P is true, and

S has suitable justification for believing that *p*. (This may mean that the justification for believing that *p* does not involve any false beliefs, or – more circumspectly – that it is suitably connected with the truth of the beliefs in question.

The purpose of the revised justification condition is to allude to the importance of context in epistemological considerations. ‘Suitable’ is a deliberately open-ended notion and, therefore, enables some kind of sensitivity to epistemic contexts.²⁴ [My emphasis].

In the end, Horsthemke concludes that:

‘Africanisation of knowledge’ makes a certain limited sense when applied to skills and to acquaintance-type knowledge. When applied to propositional knowledge, either the term ‘Africanisation’ is redundant or what is at issue would more correctly be called the ‘Africanisation of belief.’²⁵

In his view, the language of Africanization is not a helpful tool for trying to determine the validity of knowledge that can or should be applied to the solution of African problems. However, by offering a modified definition, Horsthemke reminds us that existing understandings of knowledge can be adapted so as to include a more diverse range of ideas and also enable meaningful dialogues and exchanges among scholars from different cultural backgrounds. In this regard, he presents us with yet the best example of how normative Africanization can make valuable contributions to new understandings of knowledge production and the disciplines.

If the central challenge of normative Africanization is to insure that African voices and ideas have equal access to the market of ideas, it is reasonable to expect that the ensuing debates should be guided by sound and clear epistemological criteria and not by essentialist definitions of what it means to be African. If this is the case, the promise of Africanization can and should transcend the particular questions about African knowledge and aim to transform broader methods and epistemological values. As historians Toyin Falola and Christian Jennings wrote:

... being receptive to new possibilities in research and writing requires both a critical mindset, in order to maintain academic standards, and, at the same time, a willingness to rethink those standards when African experiences and contexts suggest that they might be inadequate or inappropriate for African studies.²⁶

I have in fact suggested that the true challenge of Africanization should not be limited to producing a better history of Africa and its peoples, but it should include the broader transformation of the historical discipline and the general epistemological principles that govern

the ways in which knowledge is produced, evaluated and discussed among peoples form different cultural settings.²⁷ This can only be achieved if the goals of historical and normative Africanization complement one another. While normative Africanization should be informed by concrete knowledge of Africa's past and present; scholars engaged in the production of knowledge in and about Africa should continuously evaluate the suitability of the concepts and methods they use. They should seek to ensure that these are adequate tools, not just for the study of African realities, but also contribute to the challenge of creating new systems of knowledge that are better suited to the study and understanding of our shared human experience.

Notes

- 1 Diop, Cheikh Anta. *The African Origin of Civilization: Myth or Reality*. Translated from the French by Mercer Cook. (Chicago: L. Hill, 1974)
- 2 Isaacman, Allen F. *Mozambique: The Africanization of a European Institution; the Zambesi Prazos, 1750–1902*. (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1972). p. 156
- 3 Isaacman, Allen F. *Mozambique: The Africanization of a European Institution; the Zambesi Prazos, 1750–1902*. (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1972): 156.
- 4 Isaacman, Allen F. *Mozambique: The Africanization of a European Institution; the Zambesi Prazos, 1750–1902*. (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1972): 157.
- 5 Bond, George C., Walton R. Johnson, and Sheila S. Walker. *African Christianity: Patterns of Religious Continuity*. (New York: Academic Press, 1979). Mbiti, John S., Jacob Obafemi Kęhinde. Olupęna, and Sulayman S. Nyang. *Religious Plurality in Africa: Essays in Honour of John S. Mbiti*. (Berlin: Mouton de Gruyter, 1993). Robinson, David. "The Africanization of Islam" in *Muslim Societies in African History* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004).
- 6 Vermeyden, Anne. "The Impact of the Africanization of Christianity on an Evangelical Missionary Perspective: Mabel Easton Busye in the Lake Albert Region, 1917–1953." *International Journal of Religion & Spirituality in Society* 3, no. 2 (October 2013): 81.
- 7 Vermeyden, Anne. "The Impact of the Africanization of Christianity on an Evangelical Missionary Perspective: Mabel Easton Busye in the Lake Albert Region, 1917–1953." *International Journal of Religion & Spirituality in Society* 3, no. 2 (October 2013): 89.
- 8 A couple of examples of this literature are Symonds, Richard *The British and their Successors. A Study in the Development of Services in the New States*, (Evanston: Northwestern University Press, 1966); Adedeji, Adebayo (ed.) *Indigenization of African Economies* (New York: Africana Publishing Company, 1981).
- 9 Branwyn Poleykett, and Peter Mangesho. "Labour Politics and Africanization at a Tanzanian Scientific Research Institute, 1949–66," *Africa* no. 1 (2016): 146.
- 10 Branwyn Poleykett, and Peter Mangesho. "Labour Politics and Africanization at a Tanzanian Scientific Research Institute, 1949–66," *Africa* no. 1 (2016): 158.
- 11 Makgoba, M.W. *Makoko: The Makgoba Affair – A Reflection on Transformation*, (Florida: Vivlia, 1997): 199.
- 12 Le Roux, A. "African Renaissance: A Quest for the Transformation and Africanisation of South African Education." *South African Journal of Education*, no. 1 (2001): 34.
- 13 Seepe, Siphon. "Africanizing Knowledge: Exploring Mathematical and Scientific Knowledge Embedded in African Cultural Practices." In *African Voices in Education*, edited by Philip Higgs, (South Africa: Juta and Company Ltd, 2000): 118–38.
- 14 Tshaka, Rothney S. "How Can a Conquered People Sing Praises of Their History and Culture? Africanization as the Integration of Inculturation and Liberation." *Black Theology: An International Journal* 14, no. 2 (August 2016): 92,93.
- 15 Tshaka, Rothney S. "How Can a Conquered People Sing Praises of Their History and Culture? Africanization as the Integration of Inculturation and Liberation." *Black Theology: An International Journal* 14, no. 2 (August 2016): 104.
- 16 Iwara, I. O., W. Ndllovu, O. S. Obadire, and H. Maduku. "Exploring the Role of Students in the Attainment of Africanisation and Internationalisation in Post-Apartheid South Africa." *African Renaissance* 15, no. 2 (June 2018): 199.

- 17 Masaka, Dennis. "Challenging Epistemicide through Transformation and Africanisation of the Philosophy Curriculum in Africa." *South African Journal of Philosophy* 36, no. 4 (November 2017): 442, footnote #3.
- 18 Brizuela-Garcia, E. "The History of Africanization and the Africanization of History." *History in Africa*, 33, (2006): 88. See also Falola, T., and C. Jennings. "Introduction." In *Africanizing Knowledge: African Studies across the Disciplines*. (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 2002).
- 19 Ramose, M.B. "Foreword" in Seepe, S. *Black Perspective(s) in Tertiary Institutional Transformation*, (Johannesburg: Vivlia, 1998).
- 20 Suttner, Raymond, "'Africanisation.' African identities and emancipation in contemporary South Africa." *Social Dynamics*, 36:3, (2010): 524.
- 21 Suttner, Raymond, "'Africanisation.' African identities and emancipation in contemporary South Africa." *Social Dynamics*, 36:3, (2010): 527.
- 22 Long, Wahbie. "On the Africanization of Psychology." *South African Journal of Psychology* 46, no. 4 (December 2016): 431.
- 23 Horsthemke, Kai, "Knowledge, Education and the Limits of Africanisation." *Journal of Philosophy of Education*, 38, no. 4, (2004): 584.
- 24 Horsthemke, Kai, "Knowledge, Education and the Limits of Africanisation." *Journal of Philosophy of Education*, 38, no. 4, (2004): 582.
- 25 Horsthemke, Kai, "Knowledge, Education and the Limits of Africanisation." *Journal of Philosophy of Education*, 38, no. 4, (2004): 584.
- 26 Falola, T., and C. Jennings. "Introduction." In *Africanizing Knowledge: African Studies across the Disciplines*. (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Publishers, 2002): 2.
- 27 Brizuela-Garcia, E. "The History of Africanization and the Africanization of History." *History in Africa*, 33 (2006): 89.

Bibliography

- Adedeji, Adebayo. (ed.) *Indigenization of African Economies*. (New York: Africana Pub. Co., 1981).
- Bond, George C., Walton R. Johnson, and Sheila S. Walker. *African Christianity: patterns of Religious Continuity*. (New York: Academic Press, 1979).
- Chazan, Naomi H. "The Africanization of Political Change: some Aspects of the Dynamics of Political Cultures in Ghana and Nigeria." *African Studies Review* 21, no. 2 (1978): 15–38.
- Higgs, Philip. *African Voices in Education*. (Cape Town, South Africa: Juta and Company Ltd, 2000).
- Horsthemke, Kai. "Knowledge, Education and the Limits of Africanisation." *Journal of Philosophy of Education* 38, no. 4 (2004): 571–587.
- Isaacman, Allen F. *Mozambique: the Africanization of a European Institution; the Zambesi Prazos, 1750-1902*. (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1972).
- Iwara, I. O., W. Ndlovu, O. S. Obadire, and H. Maduku. "Exploring the Role of Students in the Attainment of Africanisation and Internationalisation in Post-Apartheid South Africa." *African Renaissance* 15, no. 2 (June 2018): 193–213.
- Kaplan, Steven. "The Africanization of Missionary Christianity: history and Typology." *Journal of Religion in Africa* 16, no. 3 (1986): 166–186.
- Kirk-Greene, A. H. M. "Some Problems of the African Administrator in the Field Today." *African Affairs* 66, no. 265 (1967): 310–323.
- Le Roux, A. "African Renaissance: A Quest for the Transformation and Africanisation of South African Education." *South African Journal of Education* 21, no. 1 (2001): 31–36.
- Lewis, Amanda E. "Africanizing Science in Post-Colonial Kenya: long-Term Field Research in the Amboseli Ecosystem, 1963–1989." *Journal of the History of Biology* 51, no. 3 (September 2018): 535–562.
- Long, Wahbie. "On the Africanization of Psychology." *South African Journal of Psychology* 46, no. 4 (December 2016): 429–431.
- Mahabeer, Pryah. "Curriculum Decision-Makers on Decolonising the Teacher Education Curriculum." *South African Journal of Education* 38, no. 4 (November 2018): 1–13.
- Makgoba, M. W. *Makoko: the Makgoba Affair – A Reflection on Transformation*. (Florida: Vivlia, 1997).
- Masaka, Dennis. "Challenging Epistemicide through Transformation and Africanisation of the Philosophy Curriculum in Africa." *South African Journal of Philosophy* 36, no. 4 (November 2017): 441–455.

- Mashau, Thinandavha D. "Unshackling the Chains of Coloniality: reimagining Decoloniality, Africanisation and Reformation for a Non-Racial South Africa." *Theological Studies* 74, no. 3, (2018). doi:10.4102/hts.v74i3.4920
- Mazrui, Ali A. "Soldiers as Traditionalizers: military Rule and the Re-Africanization of Africa." *World Politics* 28, no. 2 (1976): 246–272.
- Mbiti, John S, Jacob Obafemi Kẹhinde. Olupona, and Sulayman S. Nyang. *Religious Plurality in Africa: essays in Honour of John S. Mbiti*. (Berlin: Mouton de Gruyter, 1993).
- Polekett, Branwyn and Peter. Mangesho. "Labour Politics and Africanization at a Tanzanian Scientific Research Institute, 1949–66." *Africa* 86, no. 1 (2016): 142–161.
- Ramose, M. B. "Foreword" in Seepe, S. *Black Perspective(s) in Tertiary Institutional Transformation*. (Johannesburg: Vivlia, 1998): III–IV.
- Rothchild, Donald. "Kenya's Africanization Program: priorities of Development and Equity." *The American Political Science Review* 64, no. 3 (1970): 737–753.
- Seepe, Siphosiphiso. "Africanizing Knowledge: exploring Mathematical and Scientific Knowledge Embedded in African Cultural Practices." in *African Voices in Education*. ed. Higgs, Philip. (South Africa: Juta and Company Ltd, 2000): 118–138.
- Songca, Rushiella. "The Africanisation of Children's Rights in South Africa: quo Vadis?" *International Journal of African Renaissance Studies* 13, no. 1 (May 2018): 77–95.
- Spitzer, Leo. "Interpreting African Intellectual History: A Critical Review of the past Decade, 1960–1970." *African Studies Review* 15, no. 1 (1972): 113–118.
- Tshaka, Rothney S. "How Can a Conquered People Sing Praises of Their History and Culture? Africanization as the Integration of Inculturation and Liberation." *Black Theology: An International Journal* 14, no. 2 (August 2016): 91–106.
- Vermeyden, Anne. "The Impact of the Africanization of Christianity on an Evangelical Missionary Perspective: mabel Easton Buyse in the Lake Albert Region, 1917–1953." *International Journal of Religion & Spirituality in Society* 3, no. 2 (October 2013): 81–91.
- Westhuizen, Marichen van der, Thomas. Greuel, and Jacques W. Beukes. "Are We Hearing the Voices? Africanisation as Part of Community Development." *Hervormde Teologiese Studies* 73, no. 3 (July 2017): 1–9.

Black Consciousness

Ian Macqueen

Introduction

This chapter provides an overview of the development of Black Consciousness in South Africa, its links to Pan Africanism and its legacy in the country. I have opted for a long chronological approach and a discussion of Black Consciousness before and after the Black Consciousness Movement (BCM) (1968–1977), to emphasise the time-depth and longevity of its ideas. While showing links to international Pan Africanism, and more specifically Black Theology and Black Power in the late 1960s, the chapter also stresses the significance of anticolonial struggles in the region for informing Black historical consciousness, as well as the independence of African countries that had been gathering pace from 1960, the so-called ‘year of Africa’. It was against this backdrop that perhaps the most infamous regime of white supremacy of the latter half of the twentieth century, the apartheid state, stood.

Early struggles

The principles of self-worth and pride in blackness that the Black Consciousness activists would articulate from 1970 onwards echoed earlier traditions of thought and struggles in the country.¹ These activists were rooted in a historical consciousness of struggle and indeed called on Black students to become informed of this history, as Biko wrote in the early 1970s, of the need for research into ‘our history if we as blacks want to aid each other in our coming into consciousness’.²

It was perhaps unsurprising that calls for Pan African solidarity were to take on such poignance in one of the most intensely colonised regions of Africa, its southern extreme. Initially circumnavigated by the Portuguese and settled by the Dutch as part of their international trading empire, the British annexed the region during the Napoleonic Wars. Long viewed as an ‘imperial backwater’ the significance of the Cape was transformed by the discoveries of diamonds (1867) and gold (1886). What had been established as a slaving society under the Dutch in 1652 was to give way to a fully-fledged British colony.

The imperatives of profit, given full expression in the mining town of Kimberley and the city of Johannesburg, reinforced settler racism with an economic rationale for the hyper-exploitation of Africans. The need for labour, long a concern of white farmers and owners

of capital, led to legislation designed to force Africans into a wage economy through taxation. The hostility to the idea of permanent African urbanisation, amongst other factors, was to result in a system of migrant labour, where African workers required for their labour, would forever be transient servants in the cities and towns, to be returned to their rural homesteads when either too old or sick to work.

None of this had been conceded without a struggle. The Dutch fought a long series of wars against the Khoi. The British were to face a far sterner challenge on their Eastern border, where they encountered a farming society armed with iron weapons, the amaXhosa. It would take the British a hundred years to overcome them (1779–1879), through a combination of military and settler force. It was a struggle that involved duplicity and heartbreak, and hopes for deliverance would lead to the Xhosa following the prophetess Nongqawuse between 1856–7, who advocated destroying crops and killing cattle in the expectation of divine deliverance, with catastrophic consequences. As the Boers and British pushed further East they encountered another stern opponent in the form of the newly emergent Zulu Kingdom. Forged under the military prowess of Shaka the Zulu dominated the Eastern coastal regions and pushed far inland. Built on a system of military regiments (*impi*) the Zulu were a disciplined military society. It was the Zulu that were to famously give the British one of their biggest imperial defeats at the battle of Isandlwana (1879). What followed was a series of battles and a colonial-sponsored civil war that was to lead to the destruction of the Zulu Kingdom, facilitating the path for its colonisation and opening access to the labour that the settlers of Natal had demanded.³

The British and Boers fought two wars over the spoils of southern Africa. The second war has become known now as the South African War (1899–1902), in recognition of its encompassing impact on the region and in anticipation of the state that would emerge in its aftermath. Eight years after the ceasefire the South African Act (1909) of the British parliament forged a state out of the four colonial provinces. Thus in 1910 the Union of South Africa came into being, a country that was to become a by-word for racial oppression. Closely following the establishment of the Union, the African intelligentsia formed the South African Native National Congress (SANNC) in 1912. In 1913 the new Union made its intentions clear with the infamous Natives Land Act, which reserved only 7% of the land in the Union for Africans, laying in the process one of the pillars of segregation and apartheid.⁴ The SANNC secretary, Solomon Tshekisho Plaatje, would famously spell out the implications of the act in his book *Native Life in South Africa* (1916). The writer Bessie Head in her foreword to Plaatje's book, penned in the early 1980s, reflected how the act 'created overnight a floating landless proletariat whose labour could be used and manipulated at will, and ensured that ownership of the land had finally and securely passed into the hands of the ruling white race'.⁵

Much of the leadership of the SANNC (renamed the African National Congress in 1923) was drawn from a mission-educated elite. The civilising enterprise of the missionaries had paradoxically accompanied the naked exploitation of settler colonialism. The collective endeavours of the missionaries were to leave an important, if equivocal contribution, to African education. In this realm the University of Fort Hare was without equal in the country. Established in 1916 as an outgrowth of the work of the Church of Scotland, the institution prided itself in offering a Western-style education and was to attract the African elite from as far afield as present-day Uganda. It was this institution that was to provide Africans with an intellectual leadership that would be decisive in the decades to come.

The rallying call of Marcus Garvey, 'Africa for Africans', found fertile soil in the country in the 1920s. Robert Trent Vinson observes how 'Outside of North America and the

Caribbean' Garveyism had its 'greatest impact in South Africa' and 'pervaded black South African politics generally'.⁶ On 30 July 1921 socialist delegates to a conference in Cape Town established the Communist Party of South Africa, a movement that was to offer an abiding challenge to the race-based appeal of the Africanists.⁷

The Africanists, 1940–1960

The ANC suffered during the 1930s, the result of a 'fragmented and divided' organisation and its overall inability to 'adjust to postwar social radicalism'.⁸ It took a new cadre of leaders, many drawn from Fort Hare, to reinvigorate the organisation in the 1940s. The adoption of 'African's Claims' by the ANC at their 1943 annual conference marked an important point of departure. Penned as a response to the Atlantic Charter signed by Roosevelt and Churchill in 1941 from the viewpoint of Africans, the document was notable for its tone, addressed to the United Nations (UN):

This is our way of conveying to them [the UN] our undisputed claim to full citizenship. We desire them to realise once and for all that a just and permanent peace will be possible only if the claims of all classes, colours and races for sharing and for full participation in the educational, political and economic activities are granted and recognised.⁹

The document had been prepared by a committee of 28 African leaders, which had been 'deliberately set up ... composed exclusively of Africans ... so that they can declare without assistance or influence from others, their hopes and despairs', a rationale which anticipated the logic of Black Consciousness activists almost thirty years later.¹⁰

The ANC Youth League was launched the following year in April 1944 with Anton Lembede, a former teacher and self-educated clerk as president who had come from a poor Zulu rural background, together with Nelson Mandela, Walter Sisulu and Oliver Tambo. The Youth League manifesto espoused arguments that would become known as Africanism. The organisation was open purely for Africans and those who 'live like and with Africans'.¹¹ Its manifesto expressed strong criticism of the ANC's elitism and observed that 'no nation can free an oppressed group other than that group itself'. The appeal to the nation was further bolstered by a belief in the 'divine destiny of nations' and the writers expressed the need for Africa to 'speak with one voice'.¹² According to the historian Tom Lodge, Lembede believed a 'racially assertive nationalism' would enable 'the latent energy of working-class Africans' to be channelled to 'overcome the psychological inhibitions produced by racial oppression'.¹³ The Youth League was crucial for reinvigorating the ANC and Africanism was the dominant outlook in the 1940s. It called for an uncompromising commitment as evident in their call to 'go down to the masses. Brush aside liberals – white and black'.¹⁴

In 1948 the National Party came to power on the back of its electioneering slogan of 'apartheid' (separateness). The Nationalists passed a raft of new legislation that impacted on every facet of South African society, with the overall goal of radically extending segregation. Through the 1950s the ANC managed to hold both the Communists and Africanists together, while embarking on a course of 'direct action', a term whose full import could only be appreciated bearing in mind the ANC's forty-year history of petitions, patience and attempts at moral suasion. Building on the precedent of the Youth League's Programme of Action, the ANC launched the Defiance Campaign in 1952, with the intention of deliberately breaking apartheid laws and inviting arrest. For the Africanists, a key tactical misstep occurred in 1953, however, when the ANC joined the Congress Alliance, a broad coalition

that included the white Congress of Democrats, the Natal Indian Congress and other organisations. In 1955 the Congress of the People compiled the Freedom Charter, which opened with the line 'South Africa belongs to all who live in it, black and white'. In 1957 the ANC incorporated the Freedom Charter into its constitution.

The Africanists within the ANC considered the Charter's adoption a fundamental betrayal of the inalienable and prior African claim to the land and broke to form the Pan African Congress in 1959 under the leadership of Robert Sobukwe, Peter Raboroko and Potlako Leballo. Raboroko, author of the PAC Manifesto, would later write that the fundamental mistake of the ANC was to assume that 'master and slave – the exploiter and the exploited, the oppressor and the oppressed, the degrader and the degraded – are all equals'. Raboroko referred to this conflation of historical experience, as 'The problem of the synthesis of opposites' and argued that it could not be 'resolved by the wave of the magic wand', which informed the Freedom Charter. Raboroko made it a precondition that 'only after all these sets of antithetical categories have been duly reconciled that we can reach those final categories – equals, countrymen and brothers – which betray no instability. Such ultimate reconciliation is possible only in Africanism...'¹⁵ As we will see, the Africanist objection to what appeared as superficial integration would be echoed by Biko and Black Consciousness activists more than ten years later.

It was the Pan African Congress that organised the fateful anti-pass march on the police station in Sharpeville on 21 March 1960. The massacre that ensued was a turning point. As the journalist Benjamin Pogrand wrote later, 'The 705 bullets fired by the police that day changed South Africa, and nothing was ever to be the same again'.¹⁶ The immediate result was the National Party banned all African political parties and the ANC and PAC began an armed struggle against the apartheid state. However, the memory of the 1950s was never fully extinguished, although Mandela, Sisulu, Sobukwe and a generation of African leaders were hidden away by the apartheid regime from national and international attention on Robben Island.

The PAC armed wing, *Pogo*, initiated a short-lived armed uprising, located primarily in the Transkei and Western Cape. The violent campaign was quickly crushed by the state. It would personally touch a young Stephen Bantu Biko, however, when he and his older brother Khaya were arrested in 1963 on suspicion of membership of the organisation and Stephen Biko, along with forty other students was expelled from the mission school, Lovedale. This event, which Biko saw as the heavy-handed and unfair use of white authority, was to be a formative experience in his young life and the genesis of his politicisation. After missing a year of school, Biko moved to Natal to attend the Catholic mission school, Mariannhill College, from where he would enter the University of Natal, Non-European section, to study medicine in 1966.

The open years, 1968–1972

The BCM benefited initially from a nexus of organisations that owed their existence primarily to the church. The University Christian Movement (UCM) was an example, launched in 1967 after the breakup of the multiracial Student Christian Association. The contribution of the UCM included providing a link to the outside world, particularly the University Christian Movement in the United States. This afforded the president of the South African UCM, Basil Moore, along with two students, Gerald Ray and Bob Kgwane, an opportunity to travel to Cleveland, Ohio, to attend the annual American UCM conference. Black Power themes predominated at the conference and Moore was persuaded to travel to New York to meet with black theologian James Cone, where Moore recalls being won over to Cone's approach. In

addition, at their meeting Cone presented Moore with a manuscript of what would later be published as *Black Theology and Black Power* (1969). On Moore's return he wrote an essay, 'Towards a Black Theology', that applied the new approach to the South African context.¹⁷ This led to the UCM establishing a Black Theology Project under the leadership of Sabelo Ntwasa, a theology student at the Federal Theological Seminary at Alice in the Eastern Cape. In addition, the UCM quickly drew a large Black following, which would allow for discussions to begin about the possibility of forming a black-only student organisation.

The flagship organisation of what would later be dubbed the BCM was a student organisation, the South African Students' Organisation (SASO). Formed initially from a caucus of Black students at the July 1968 UCM conference in Stutterheim in the Eastern Cape its first conference was held in December 1968 at Biko's *alma mater*, Mariannhill College, and was launched in July 1969 by Biko, Pityana and compatriots at the University of the North.

The intention of the organisation was to provide a link between the African students across the country. Numerically tiny in comparison to the white tertiary student population they felt patronised and unrepresented in the liberal National Union of South African Students (NUSAS). African students were confronted in addition by isolated campuses and repressive university administrations. The communique drawn up at the founding conference emphasised that the principal aim of the organisation was to maintain contact among African students. There was a situation where Black students, the writers recognised, 'have remained isolated not only physically but intellectually'.¹⁸

The first General Students Council (GSC) was held in Durban in July 1970. The choice of the location reflected the importance of the Eastern harbour city, and particularly the University of Natal's medical school, the only institution in the country that trained Black doctors. This had drawn Biko in 1966 with a scholarship and indeed SASO was initially run out of his residence room. At the time of the GSC, the philosophy of Black Consciousness was still in embryonic form. However, some early principles were apparent. The conference made no apology at barring members of the press, which of course did more to publicise the event than anything. Delegates also noted their rejection of the commonly-used term 'non-white', which had even been used in the 1969 communique, and noted their preference for simple terms such as 'Black' or 'White'. It was preferable, the conference delegates argued, that 'people should be referred to by what they are rather than what they are not'.¹⁹

Another element of the embryonic discourse was evident in the choice to host a symposium on 'Black is Beautiful' as part of the conference. For speakers, the symposium included M.T. Moerane, editor of *The World*, and Ben Khoapa, a staff worker for the Young Men's Christian Association (YMCA), who had returned the previous year from a nine-month trip to the United States, sponsored by the YMCA in the United States. Looking back at the symposium the first edition of the *SASO Newsletter* deemed the symposium to have been 'Perhaps the most important event of the conference', helping to 'focus attention sharply on untouched aspects of our involvement' and highlighting the need for 'dialogue between student and non-student sectors of the "black intelligentsia"'.²⁰

The first edition of the *SASO Newsletter* that reported on the Durban conference was very roughly produced in comparison to the more professional editions that were to follow in subsequent years. However, the newsletter communicated much about the new organisation, speaking to the rapid progress SASO activists had made since its launch only a year before. The newsletter included a perceptive and informed survey of African independence movements and newly independent countries by Charles Sibisi, indicative of the awareness of students of the broader liberation struggle on the continent. It also included a curious jibe at women under the title 'Chemical analysis of a woman (Woo)', which spoke to the

difficulties the movement had in accommodating feminism at the time.²¹ A quote by Kenneth Kaunda prefaced Biko's first article under the series 'I Write What I Like', titled 'Black Souls in White Skins?', which was a withering attack on the 'white liberal' that evoked the position of the Africanists a decade prior and raised again the problem of artificial integration as opposed to meaningful change.²²

At the Durban conference Biko stepped down as SASO president, replaced by Barney Pityana and took up the portfolio of Publications, directing the compilation of new editions of the *SASO Newsletter*, which was to be published until at least March 1976. Mzamane and Howarth observe that 'the *SASO Newsletter* appeared four or five times a year and, at its zenith, circulation reached 4,000 copies (though the newsletter was undoubtedly read by many more people)',²³ and note how:

As the chair of SASO publications, Biko became the key catalyst in the production of a Black Consciousness literature. Leading poets like Njabulo Ndebele (the 1971–1972 Students' Representative Council president at the University of Botswana, Lesotho, and Swaziland) Mafika Gwala, and Mongane Serote became household names through their writing in BC publications.²⁴

This generation would later become known as the 'Soweto poets' and it was a strength of Black Consciousness that its message was readily adopted and propagated by poets and artists, leading to the creation of enduring cultural tropes as Shannon Hill has demonstrated.²⁵

The Black Consciousness link to the Africanists was reinforced when Sobukwe was released from Robben Island in May 1969. SASO member, Saths Cooper, later recalled the symbolic importance of Sobukwe to Cooper's generation, as well as how after Sobukwe's release and banishment to Kimberley, the young activists would secretly visit him. Cooper particularly emphasised how Sobukwe's 'opinions were solicited and in effect his encouragement and blessings were received ... He was seen as one of the progenitors, one of the key thinkers, in the run-up to the development of Black Consciousness'.²⁶ According to Pogrand, Sobukwe was particularly consulted as plans developed for the founding of a new political organisation.²⁷ This organisation was to materialise in the creation of the Black People's Convention (BPC), launched in December 1972 with Winnie Kgwere as president and Biko being accorded the position of honorary president.

Black consciousness confronts the state, 1972–1976

SASO had initially been able to convince the state that its brand of Black separatism was congruent with the aims of separate development, as apartheid was euphemistically branded at the time. A series of strikes in 1972 at the ethnically segregated universities would shake the government out of its complacency. It was initiated by an outspoken denunciation of Bantu Education by Student Representative Council (SRC) president, Abram Onkgopotse Tiro, in front of Prof J.C. Boshoff, the rector, at the university's graduation ceremony in April 1972. It took the university less than a week to summarily expel Tiro, a step that led to a student petition and a sit-in that led to the mass expulsion of students. A group of SASO activists who had gathered for a workshop, responded with the 'Alice Declaration', which called on Black students across the country to boycott lectures on 1 June. Although this step caused controversy as it was taken without the activists' consultation with SASO's national leadership,²⁸ Black, Coloured and Indian students responded enthusiastically, even pre-empting the 1 June date, with hunger strikes, lecture boycotts and sit-ins. Their actions,

in the opinion of Aubrey Mokoape would 'bind forever the Black Community – Coloured, Indian and African'.²⁹ His comments indicated an important distinction between Black Consciousness and Africanism, where in the former Blacks were identified as those oppressed under apartheid, in favour of the more exclusive appeal to the 'African' that the Africanists had favoured.

The immediate result of the nationwide strikes was a series of 'bannings' (house-arrests) that targeted both Black and white activists. Eight SASO leaders and eight NUSAS leaders were targeted. The 'banning' was a form of internal exile, intended to render the individual ineffective and break their influence. As an example, Biko was forced to leave Durban, where he had lived since 1966 and was sent to King William's Town in the Transkei. This form of public censure was augmented by a nefarious campaign of bombings, assassinations and abductions. Although it did not appear a targeted assassination, Mthuli ka Shezi, a playwright and Vice President of the BPC, had been the movement's first martyr, pushed in front of an oncoming train in a scuffle on a Germiston platform. Tiro was, however, purposely killed by a letter bomb whilst in exile in Gaborone, Botswana on 1 February 1974.

The independence of Mozambique in 1974 was to provide another flashpoint in SASO's growing struggle with the state, what the historian Julian Brown has called its 'reluctant embrace' of confrontational tactics.³⁰ In a move of astonishing brazenness, SASO invited Frente de Libertação de Moçambique (FRELIMO) representatives to attend rallies in South Africa, organised at the University of the North and in Durban to celebrate Mozambique's independence. South African public intellectual Xolela Mangcu argues this move was taken against Biko's counsel.³¹ It resulted in the police violently breaking up the rally that had been assembled in Durban at Curries' Fountain, as well as the arrest and expulsion of students at the University of the North who had gathered for the event.

As Biko had feared, the 'Pro-Frelimo' rallies afforded the state the opportunity to conduct a nationwide swoop on SASO and led to a national and public trial, commencing in 1975, of the activists Saths Cooper, Zithulele Cindi, Mosiuoa Lekota, Aubrey Mokoape, Strini Moodley, Muntu Myeza, Pandelani Nefolovhodwe, Nkwenkwe Nkomo and Kaborane Sedibe, the so-called 'SASO Nine'. It became increasingly apparent through the lengthy trial, that those in the dock were being prosecuted for the radical potential of Black Consciousness, more so than the act of organising the rallies.³² The trial afforded Biko, as a witness for the defence, an opportunity to publicly broadcast the message and approach of Black Consciousness in such a brave and forthright manner that he forever cemented his place in the imaginations of Black South Africans.

Black consciousness after Soweto

It seemed that Biko had no sooner finished his eloquent defence of Black Consciousness in the Pretoria courtroom than school children in Soweto engaged in an open protest against the imposition of Afrikaans as a language of instruction on 16 June 1976. The influence of Black Consciousness was clear, facilitated by a generation of expelled students from the segregated universities who had taken up teaching positions across the country. In Soweto alone at least ten had taught between 1972 and 1975, including Tiro.³³ Their efforts had also been focused through the establishment of the South African Students Movement in February 1972, an organisation aimed at school children that had formed after contact with the Black Consciousness Movement.³⁴

The Soweto march was peaceful initially but was confronted by armed police who opened fire on the children, a moment that, like Sharpeville sixteen years prior, changed the

country forever. The regime would never fully regain the upper hand but rather set in motion a cycle of violence that would engulf the country for more than a decade. The immediate result of a nationwide outbreak of rioting and police brutality was the exile of a generation of young Black South Africans. Many simply walked across the South African border, determined to join the struggle to end apartheid. In the process the new wave of recruits paradoxically breathed new life into an organisation that would become a political rival the following decade, the ANC.

After the Soweto Uprising and the exile of thousands of young South Africans to join the ANC, the perception grew that Black Consciousness had been a 'forming ground' of sorts with the implication that when students matured they would grow out of Black Consciousness and come around to the ANC's view of things. Nelson Mandela's condescending judgement from prison was that 'In a cosmopolitan environment where common sense and experience demand that freedom fighters be guided by progressive ideas and not by mere colour, the ideology of the BCM remains embryonic and clannish'.³⁵ The advocates of Black Consciousness were thus characterised as lacking both experience and common sense.

A major blow to the BCM took place when on 12 September 1977 Biko was murdered in police custody. Although Biko's murder led to an international outcry and pushed the United Nations to impose an arms embargo on South Africa, and even though Biko's funeral attracted 20,000 mourners to King William's Town, his death was a severe blow to the cause of Black Consciousness. The rise of what was to be called 'Charterism', a broad term encompassing the Freedom Charter and the ANC that had by now monopolised the document, signalled a serious challenge for Black Consciousness. In the realpolitik of an escalating Cold War, Biko was accused of having links to the Central Intelligence Agency.³⁶ The ANC, waging a desperate counter-espionage campaign against the apartheid state, sought to assert ownership over the civil uprising that had spread over South Africa. In this context, ideologies became polarised and the violence would even spill over to internecine clashes between those who supported the offshoot of the BCM, the Azanian Peoples Organisation (AZAPO) and those who identified with the ANC.

Conclusion

Black Consciousness in South Africa grew out of a confluence of the African struggles against European colonialism, the history of Africanism under the Garveyite flag, and solidified under the ANC Youth League, until the breakaway of Sobukwe, Leballo and others to form the PAC. Black Consciousness also reflected its generational context, with the impact of Black Theology and Black Power, as well as the heroes of African independence. Black Consciousness activists drew on this intellectual tradition to reinvigorate the struggle against apartheid. Although it was misrepresented as an embryonic stage of development, the abiding memory of Black Consciousness in South Africa indicates the mistake of assuming it would die a natural death. Rather, it has seen a revival of interest, as the late American scholar C. R.D. Halisi predicted it would after the arrival of democracy in 1994.³⁷

Author biography

Ian Macquoen is a lecturer in the Department of Historical and Heritage Studies at the University of Pretoria and is a research associate of the Society, Work and Politics Institute (SWOP) at the University of the Witwatersrand. He is the author of *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid* (UKZN Press, 2018).

Notes

- 1 The first to point out the links between Black Consciousness and Africanism, was the American political scientist, Gail Gerhart in *Black Power in South Africa: The Evolution of an Ideology* (Berkeley, Los Angeles and London: University of California Press, 1978).
- 2 S. Biko, *I Write What I Like: 40th Anniversary Edition* (Johannesburg: Picador Africa, 2017), 105.
- 3 J. Guy, *The Destruction of the Zulu Kingdom: The Civil War in Zululand 1879–1884* (Pietermaritzburg: University of Natal Press, 1994).
- 4 H. Feinberg, 'The 1913 Natives Land Act in South Africa: Politics, Race, and Segregation in the Early 20th Century', *The International Journal of African Historical Studies*, Vol. 26, No. 1 (1993), 65–109.
- 5 B. Head, 'LOOKING BACK: Foreword to Ravan Press Edition of Native Life in South Africa, 1982.' In *Sol Plaatje's Native Life in South Africa: Past and Present* Remmington, Janet, Willan Brian, and Peterson Bhekizizwe, by Ndebele Njabulo S (Johannesburg: Wits University Press, 2016), xxxvii.
- 6 R.T. Vinson, "'Sea Kaffirs': 'American Negroes' and the Gospel of Garveyism in Early Twentieth-Century Cape Town," *The Journal of African History* 47, no. 2 (2006), 281–282.
- 7 S. Johns, 'The Birth of the Communist Party of South Africa.' *The International Journal of African Historical Studies* 9, no. 3 (1976), 371–400.
- 8 S. Dubow, *The African National Congress* (Stroud: Sutton Publishing, 2000), 14.
- 9 'Africans' Claims in South Africa adopted by the ANC 1943 Annual Conference,' accessed February, 27, 2019, www.sahistory.org.za/archive/africans-claims-south-africa-adopted-anc-1943-annual-conference
- 10 'Africans' Claims in South Africa'.
- 11 Cited in T. Lodge, *Black Politics in South Africa since 1945*, (London: Longman, 1983), 20.
- 12 Cited in Lodge, *Black Politics*, 21.
- 13 Lodge, *Black Politics*, 21.
- 14 Cited in Lodge, *Black Politics*, 22. See also Gerhart, *Black Power in South Africa*, 54–67.
- 15 P. N. Raboroko, 'Congress and the Africanists: (I) The Africanist Case,' *Africa South* (n.d.): 26–27, accessed 28 February 2019, www.sahistory.org.za/sites/default/files/DC/asapr60.5/asapr60.5.pdf. My thanks to Thembinkosi Khumalo for this reference.
- 16 B. Pogrand, *How Can Man Die Better: The Life of Robert Sobukwe* (Johannesburg and Cape Town: Jonathan Ball Publishers, 2015), 136.
- 17 I. Macqueen, *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid* (Pietermaritzburg: UKZN Press, 2018), 38.
- 18 'Communique by SASO, July 1969,' accessed 1 March 2019, www.sahistory.org.za/archive/communique-saso-july-1969
- 19 Macqueen, *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid*, 43.
- 20 SASO Newsletter (Aug 1970): 4.
- 21 D.R. Magaziner, 'Pieces of a (Wo)man: Feminism, Gender and Adulthood in Black Consciousness, 1968–1977,' *Journal of Southern African Studies*, 37, no. 1 (2011): 45–61; P. Gqola, 'Contradictory Locations: Blackwomen and the Discourse of the Black Consciousness Movement (BCM) in South Africa,' *Meridians* 2, no. 1 (2001): 130–152; Macqueen, *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid*, 138–160.
- 22 Biko, *I Write What I Like*, 20–28.
- 23 M. V. Mzamane and D. R. Howarth, 'Representing Blackness: Steve Biko and the Black Consciousness Movement,' in *South Africa's resistance press: alternative voices in the last generation under apartheid*, eds. L. Switzer and M. Adhikari (Ohio: Ohio University Press, 2000), 187.
- 24 Mzamane and Howarth, 'Representing Blackness,' 189.
- 25 S. Hill, *Biko's Ghost: The Iconography of Black Consciousness* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2015).
- 26 Cited in Pogrand, *How Can Man Die Better*, p. 350. Pogrand continues ... 'There's a wonderful story that Steve once walked into a room where Sobukwe was holding forth. Surprised and overwhelmed by the sight of this great leader he simply exclaimed: 'Tyhini no Thixo Ulapha' (Xhosa for 'What! Even God is here!'). Steve was using this figurative expression to show the kind of awe and respect in which he held the Prof ... ' (400). My thanks to Prof Tinyiko Maluleke for this reference.

- 27 Pogrund, *How Can Man Die Better*, 350.
- 28 A. Heffernan, *Limpopo's Legacy: Students Politics and Democracy in South Africa* (Woodbridge: James Currey, 2019), 52–53.
- 29 SASO Newsletter 2, no. 3 (May/June 1972): 1, cited in Macqueen, *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid*, 86.
- 30 J. Brown, "SASO's Reluctant Embrace of Public Forms of Protest, 1968–1972", *South African Historical Journal*, 62, 4, (2010), 716–734.
- 31 X. Mangcu, *Biko: A Biography* (Cape Town: Tafelberg, 2012), 192–193
- 32 M. Lobban, *White Man's Justice: South African Political Trials in the Black Consciousness Era* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1996).
- 33 A. Heffernan, 'Black Consciousness's Lost Leader: Abraham Tiro, the University of the North, and the Seeds of South Africa's Student Movement in the 1970s,' *Journal of Southern African Studies* 41, no. 1 (2015): 187
- 34 C. Glaser, "'We Must Infiltrate the Tsotsis': School Politics and Youth Gangs in Soweto, 1968–1976," *Journal of Southern African Studies*, 24, no. 2 (1998): 306.
- 35 N. Mandela, 'Whither the Black Consciousness Movement? An Assessment,' in *Reflections in Prison*, ed. M. Maharaj (Cape Town: Struik Publishers, Zebra Press and Robben Island Museum, 2001), 39.
- 36 Mangcu, *Biko*, 294–295.
- 37 C.R.D. Halisi, *Black Political Thought in the Making of South African Democracy* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1999); see for example, M. H. Maserumule, 'Why Biko's Black Consciousness philosophy resonates with youth today', *The Conversation*, 4 September 2015. Accessed 26 July 2019, <https://theconversation.com/why-bikos-black-consciousness-philosophy-resonates-with-youth-today-46909>

Bibliography

- Biko, S. *I Write What I Like: 40th Anniversary Edition*. Johannesburg: Picador Africa, 2017.
- Brown, J. 'Saso's Reluctant Embrace of Public Forms of Protest, 1968–1972', *South African Historical Journal*, 62, 4, (2010), 716–734.
- Dubow, S. *The African National Congress*. Stroud: Sutton Publishing, 2000.
- Feinberg, H. The 1913 Natives Land Act in South Africa: politics, Race, and Segregation in the Early 20th Century, *The International Journal of African Historical Studies*, 26, 1, (1993), 65–109.
- Gerhart, G. *Black Power in South Africa: the Evolution of an Ideology*. Berkeley, Los Angeles and London: University of California Press, 1978.
- Glaser, C. "'we Must Infiltrate the Tsotsis': school Politics and Youth Gangs in Soweto, 1968–1976." *Journal of Southern African Studies*, 24, 2, (1998), 301–323.
- Gqola, P. "Contradictory Locations: blackwomen and the Discourse of the Black Consciousness Movement (BCM) in South Africa." *Meridians*, 2, 1, (2001), 130–152.
- Guy, J. *The Destruction of the Zulu Kingdom: the Civil War in Zululand 1879–1884*. Pietermaritzburg: University of Natal Press, 1994.
- Halisi, C R D. *Black Political Thought in the Making of South African Democracy*. Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1999.
- Head, B. "LOOKING BACK: foreword to Ravan Press Edition of Native Life in South Africa, 1982." in *Sol Plaatje's Native Life in South Africa: past and Present*, edited by R. Janet, W. Brian, P. Bhekizizwe, and N. S. Ndebele, xxxvii–xl. Johannesburg: Wits University Press, 2016.
- Heffernan, A. "Black Consciousness's Lost Leader: Abraham Tiro, the University of the North, and the Seeds of South Africa's Student Movement in the 1970s." *Journal of Southern African Studies*, 41, 1, (2015), 173–186.
- Heffernan, A. *Limpopo's Legacy: students Politics and Democracy in South Africa*. Woodbridge: James Currey, 2019.
- Hill, S. *Biko's Ghost: the Iconography of Black Consciousness*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2015.
- Johns, S. "The Birth of the Communist Party of South Africa." *The International Journal of African Historical Studies*, 9, 3, (1976), 371–400.
- Lobban, M. *White Man's Justice: South African Political Trials in the Black Consciousness Era*. Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1996.

- Lodge, T. *Black Politics in South Africa since 1945*. London: Longman, 1983.
- Macqueen, I. *Black Consciousness and Progressive Movements under Apartheid*. Pietermaritzburg: UKZN Press, 2018.
- Magaziner, D R. "Pieces of a (Wo)man: feminism, Gender and Adulthood in Black Consciousness, 1968–1977." *Journal of Southern African Studies*, 37, 1, (2011), 45–61.
- Mandela, N. "Whither the Black Consciousness Movement? an Assessment." in *Reflections in Prison*, edited by M. Maharaj, 21–64. Cape Town: Struik Publishers, Zebra Press and Robben Island Museum, 2001.
- Mangcu, X. *Biko: A Biography*. Cape Town: Tafelberg, 2012.
- Maserumule, M. H. 'Why Biko's Black Consciousness Philosophy Resonates with Youth Today', *The Conversation*, September 4, 2015. Accessed July 26, 2019, <https://theconversation.com/why-bikos-black-consciousness-philosophy-resonates-with-youth-today-46909>.
- Mzamane, M. V. and Howarth, D. R. "Representing Blackness: steve Biko and the Black Consciousness Movement," in *South Africa's Resistance Press: alternative Voices in the Last Generation under Apartheid*, edited by L. Switzer and M. Adhikari, 176–200. Ohio: Ohio University Press 2000.
- Pogrand, B. *How Can Man Die Better: the Life of Robert Sobukwe*. Johannesburg and Cape Town: Jonathan Ball Publishers, 2015.
- Raboroko, P N "Congress and the Africanists: (I) the Africanist Case." *Africa South* (n.d.): 26–27. Accessed February, 28, 2019 www.sahistory.org.za/sites/default/files/DC/asapr60.5/asapr60.5.pdf.
- SASO Newsletter (Aug 1970).
- SASO Newsletter 2, no. 3 (May/June 1972).
- South African History Online. "Africans' Claims in South Africa Adopted by the ANC 1943 Annual Conference." Accessed February, 27, 2019a, www.sahistory.org.za/archive/africans-claims-south-africa-adopted-anc-1943-annual-conference.
- South African History Online. "Communique by SASO, July 1969." Accessed March 1, 2019b, www.sahistory.org.za/archive/communique-saso-july-1969.
- Vinson, R. T. "'Sea Kaffirs': 'American Negroes' and the Gospel of Garveyism in Early Twentieth-Century Cape Town." *The Journal of African History*, 47, 2, (2006), 281–303.

Afrocentricity

Molefi Kete Asante

Afrocentricity is a philosophical paradigm used to generate theories and methods of analysis and correctives to the social, economic, and cultural conditions of African people. Accepting the idea that the dominant interpretation of African history during the past five hundred years had to consider a response to the disorientation that Europe created among African people on the continent and in the African diaspora, Molefi Kete Asante proposed a theory of social change he called Afrocentricity. It was the first theoretical attempt to propose an alternative to the two struggle stream theories, integration and separation, that had often become debates about racism and not-racism or pathways to assimilation and separateness. Emphasizing the need for a new approach to the question of racism Asante defined an alternative to assimilation and separation as a way to normalize African situations.

Afrocentricity and Pan-Africanism

There were two important propositions that Asante advanced that would underscore the need for this new project. In the first place, it was essential that people of African descent reject all negativity about Africa, African origins, history and values grounded in the European's biological deterministic view of superiority and inferiority. Rather Afrocentricity argued that Africans, regardless to opposition and despite the spatial distribution of Africans, had to embrace the idea that as African people there was nothing wrong with them as Africans. The second position was that without such acceptance it would be almost impossible for Africans to find normalcy and balance in relation to Western doctrines of social, economic, and political dominance. Clearly the implications for Africology, history, sociology, politics, sciences, economics, as well as social and cultural justice were quickly acknowledged in the literature as thousands of articles, books, and encyclopedias began to adopt the new thinking. Afrocentrists advanced the idea in international African conferences in Dakar, Nairobi, Johannesburg, Lagos, and Accra that the true substance of Pan Africanism was a commitment to African agency in all fields, discourses, and movements. Without Afrocentric agency there is neither purpose nor shape to Pan Africanism. Afrocentricity asserts that Pan Africanism ceases to be a slogan when there is a robust theoretical and philosophical

commitment to the subject place of Africans in discourses of unity; otherwise there is neither ideology nor practice of Pan Africanism.

The word “Afro-centric” as an adjective first appeared in W. E. B. Du Bois’s 1962 speech notes stating that the *Encyclopedia Africana*, which he was to edit, should be “unashamedly Afro-centric” and then later in the year Kwame Nkrumah, the founding prime minister of Ghana, called for an “Afro-centric education” for Ghanaian students.

On the other hand, *Afrocentricity* as employed by Asante in 1980 was an intellectual discourse on the issues of social and historical dislocation as well as the centering and locating of African people within their own narratives, especially for interpretation, analysis, and action. In fact, in 1973 there had occurred a single issue of a journal called *Afrocentric World Review*, but it had no definition of the term, and no theoretical or analytical extension of the adjective “Afrocentric.” Asante has been universally acknowledged as the founder of the theory of Afrocentricity. It was further enhanced as a central tendency in discourse around culture and agency by the Temple Circle of Afrocentrists that included C. Tsehloane Keto, Ama Mazama, Nah Dove, and Kariamuwelsh. Other scholars such as Linda James Myers, Maulana Karenga, Mark Tillotson, Clenora Hudson-Weems, Mark Christian, Kmt Shockley, Simphiwe Sesanti, and Daryl Harris became leading thinkers in this intellectual school.

These scholars, and others, made several observations. First, the term *Afrocentricity* was not to be confused with either *Afrocentrism* or *Africa-centered* although those two words were often used to refer to Afrocentricity. *Afrocentrism* is a term frequently employed by those who see Afrocentricity in religious terms, that is, a belief system, rather than an analytical paradigm. Of course, it has nothing to do with any form of religion. The term *Africa-centered* has geographical implications that are not necessarily definitive for Afrocentricity inasmuch as someone could be Afrocentric living in Siberia and perform Afrocentric scholarship from any place in the world. Although the adjective *Afro-centric* pre-existed Asante, it had no methodological dynamism until Molefi Kete Asante developed the theory of Afrocentricity in a series of books and articles. The second observation was that Afrocentricity had become a term applied to numerous philosophers of Africa and the African diaspora who see African agency as the starting point of most social, political, ethical, and economic analysis related to Africa. Without centering of Africans as subjects, they opined that all explanations of African phenomena would go astray. Hence, discourses on gender, class, or race had to first acknowledge the subject place of Africans in their own history before attempting to interpret or explain behavior, identity, or actions. One could not simply impose criteria taken from a Eurocentric cultural or behavioral model on African people or ideas and expect a valid analysis. Afrocentrists understood that there were no universalist principles applicable to all people without historical and cultural groundings.

Centering Africans in historical experiences

Afrocentricity’s innovation in approaching knowledge related to African people is the assertion that Africans must be the center of their own narratives. This was a simple philosophical pivot, but its impact has colored all studies of African people since the publication of Asante’s four original studies on Afrocentricity. For nearly five hundred years Africans had been written out of their own stories and had suffered marginalization in the historiography of Europe. In fact, the contestation of ideas, concepts, original advances by African theorists is a part of the same process. Only with the Afrocentric movement was there a consistent response to the overwhelmingly Eurocentric interpretations of the African experiences.

By the late 1990s and early 2000s the idea of Afrocentricity had been richly textured by the works of two of its earliest proponents, Ama Mazama (*The Afrocentric Paradigm*) and C. Tsehloane Keto (*An Africa Centered Perspective on History*). Both added their own flavor to the idea of African agency and the reorientation of Africans within the context of knowledge acquisition and creation. Ama Mazama, with a doctorate from La Sorbonne in Linguistics and Philosophy, extended the idea proposed by Asante and added the perspective of a complete change in the way Africans approached reality. The implications of this change have been far-reaching, even to the fact that in Bolivia some pundits have suggested that the clock be turned to run in the opposite direction from what European thinkers have called “clockwise.” Who was to say that Europe had the right to define the way a clock should run? Keto, a South African with a strong political and historical orientation sought to clarify the place Africa holds in world history. Trained as a historian at the University of Kansas, Keto tried to place Africa in its proper geographical space as the first continent of human origin. His books *African Centered Perspective of History* and *Introduction to the Africa Centered Perspective of History* are the first books to advance the idea that Africa sits at the center of human history. Thus, Keto added to the idea of Afrocentricity from a continental angle in a way that had only been anticipated by Asante.

Afrocentric cadres

During the 1990s and into the early 2000s a cadre of intellectuals rallied to the argument that Africans had to be seen as agents within historical narratives and not as people on the side of history. Indeed, they saw Africans as centered in the account of African history and important in most aspects of world history. Among those scholars were Linda James Myers, Maulana Karenga, and Clenora Hudson-Weems. In the case of Myers her 1993 book *Understanding an Afrocentric World View: Introduction to Optimal Psychology* established her as one of the first serious scholars of Afrocentric understanding from the psychological field. Myers suggestion is that African Americans are forced to abide by cultural and cosmological assumptions that are contrary to their own *beingness*. Hudson-Weems applied Afrocentric thinking to the question of sex and gender and developed Africana Womanism. Jerome Schiele, Patricia Reid-Meritt, and Thad Mathis saw the advantages of an Afrocentric social work. Daryl Taiwo Harris advanced Afrocentric political theory at the same time as Kmt Shockley and Mwalimu Shujaa were seeking to reorient education along the lines of African agency. Afrocentrists came to accept the research agendas of several scholars who did not declare themselves Afrocentric but left no doubt that they were interpreting phenomena from the same perspective as Afrocentrists. They may have called themselves in some cases Africentrists but they were fully committed to the centering of Africans in the middle of narratives of Africans. Among these were Wade Nobles, Kobi Kamfon, Na'im Akbar, and Asa Hilliard. In fact, these individuals became the front pages of the book of psychologists who expressed the significance of Afrocentric views. Their names became associated with a new form of psychology; indeed, they were only psychologists in name because they had become uniquely Afrocentric in their orientation to knowledge. Maulana Karenga, the author of the most comprehensive *Introduction to Black Studies*, wrote several substantive articles for the *Journal of Black Studies* extending the ideas of Afrocentricity which was ultimately based anyway on a cultural foundation. In a sense, the Afrocentrists had come to adopt Karenga's conceptualization of the African crisis as one that was fundamentally cultural. Asante would be inspired by this formulation to suggest that all issues of African trauma could be related to this factor. Thus, economics, religion, language development, social protocols,

critical analysis, social justice, and consciousness had to be seen as tied to the domination of Europe in the minds of Africans and Europeans over the past four centuries, hence, a cultural crisis.

Afrocentricity and the academy

Afrocentricity became the dominant intellectual theory used by scholars in Black Studies during the 1990s due to the dissemination of the theory by doctoral research of students graduating from the first PhD program in African American Studies in the United States at Temple University. By 2020 more than 190 doctoral degrees had been granted by Temple University where Afrocentricity first took root in an academic environment. Within the first ten years of the doctoral program Temple had produced many scholars with dissertations centered on African agency: They were written by Ella M. Forbes, *But we have no country: an Afrocentric Study of 1851 Christiana Resistance*; Mark J. Hyman, *Afrocentric Learnings of Black Church Owned Newspapers from Mid-nineteenth Century to WWII*; Ida Delores Young, *Between the voices of our ancestors: Afrocentric strategies, symbols, forms of revolution, and the philosophical implications of the rhetorical discourse of Abolitionist Maria W. Stewart (1803–1879)*; Donnie Leon Luke, *Afrocentric methods and the retrieval of an obscured African history: a reexamination of old Norse sagas*; Barbara J Marshall, *Mirroring Isis: an Afrocentric analysis of the works of selected African-American female writers*; Carolyn Louise Holmes, *New visions of a liberated future: Afrocentric paradigms, literature, and a curriculum for survival and beyond*; Susan Alexis Thomas-Holder, *Henry Highland Garnet: his life, times and an Afrocentric analysis of his writings*; Timothy James Johnson, *The ideological, theological, and conceptual postulates of the Black Church becoming Afrocentric*; Victor Oguejiofor Okafor, *Leadership and political integration in Africa: an Afrocentric case study of Nigeria*; Cecil Conteen Gray, *From incipient Afrocentric thought and praxis to intellectual history*; Edward Lama Wonkeryor, *The effects of United States' political communication and the Liberian experience (1960–1990): an Afrocentric analysis*; Miriam Maa'at-Ka-Re Monges, *Kush: an Afrocentric perspective*; Jose V. Pimienta-Bey, *Some "Myths" of the Moorish Science Temple: an Afrocentric historical analysis*; Jeffrey Lynn Woodyard, *Africalogical rhetorical theory and criticism: Afrocentric approaches to the rhetoric of Malcolm X*; and Katherine Kemi Bankole, *An Afrocentric analysis of enslavement and medicine in the Southeastern parishes of antebellum Louisiana*. These were just the early dissertations that utilized Afrocentric in their titles. Other dissertations, while Afrocentric, did not display the theory or method in the titles. Of course, since that period there have been scores of doctoral graduates from the Temple University program.

Katherine Bankole-Medina wrote the first comprehensive work on Afrocentric terms and concepts in the late 1990s. Christel Temple has explored the relationship of Afrocentricity to literature producing a new body of literary works founded on the principle of African subject places. Other writers have examined Afrocentric architecture, Afrocentric social work, Afrocentric critiques of rhetoric, Afrocentric psychology, Afrocentric economics, Afrocentric literary analysis, Afrocentric philosophy, Afrocentric historiography, as well as issues of race and gender in the context of the paradigm. A. Wade Boykin, Freya Rivers, Susan Goodwin, and Kofi Lomotey have all written about culturally sensitive teaching and learning with a major dose of the Afrocentric idea.

Afrocentricity has gained intellectual ground in Africa with brilliant articles and books by Simphiwe Sesanti, Vimbai Chivaura, and Tavengwa Gwekwerere; in the Caribbean with the works of Michael Barnett and John Bewaji; in Europe and Africa there are numerous authors who have unleashed a plethora of books and articles reflecting the Afrocentric perspective. Herbert Ekwe-Ekwe was one of the first United Kingdom scholars to write about

operationalizing Afrocentricity. Scholars and authors such as Vusi Gumede of South Africa, Ayele Bekerie, Theophile Obenga, Doumba Fakoly, V. Y. Mudimbe, and Mubabinge Bilolo have advanced the work of African philosophy and political science by virtue of their willingness to reorient the Eurocentric thinking that had dominated African thought. Although the work in South America has been done principally by extraordinarily bright activists because of the lack of Africans in the university systems there have been some very positive developments in Brazil. Inspired by the writings of Abdias Nascimento and Leila Gonzales students in Brazil have begun to create Afrocentric clubs and social organizations. Chief among these Afrocentric students are Ama Mizani at the Federal University in Rio de Janeiro and Gabriel Swahili of the Federal University in Salvador, both are leaders of Afrocentricity International in their cities. As in the Portuguese-speaking region, the Spanish-speaking areas of South America, particularly in Colombia, where Omotunde Asare, and other young Afrocentrists have pioneered the distribution of Afrocentric content to local communities and creating Afrocentric organizations to advance consciousness. The result is that many people are beginning to see the benefits of an Afrocentric analysis of their situations. In every region of the African world Afrocentrists lead discussion groups, clubs, social gatherings, festival panels and community forums of ordinary people that debate issues of economics, racism, gender, aesthetics, ethics, consciousness, values, ontology and epistemology in search of African agency.

Afrocentricity and the agency reduction formation

A key premise of Afrocentricity is that African agency is the central instrument in a cultural reorientation in the African world (Tillotson, 2011). How to achieve agency and what it looks like is a matter of constant debate; however, what is not debatable is the condition of collective marginalization caused by the assertion of Arab and European hegemony over African people, primarily as a result of the Arab Slave Trade, the European Slave Trade, and colonization. The necessity for Africans to assert their own narrative against the intensive and persistent pushing of African people, ideas, and concepts to the margins is at the core of the cultural problem. Lack of assertion or the forceful removal of agency has often created a pervasive generalized economic and cultural disorientation that accompanied the physical and psychological dislocation of Africans from a home place.

Afrocentricity and cultural terrorism

The moral aesthetics of Afrocentricity is that it situates Africans within the center of the African narratives of place, time, and space hence demonstrating that the dislocation of Africans from the center of their own history is a form of intellectual and cultural terrorism that is a constant attack on the African's concept of self (Asante, 2014). Afrocentricity accepts the idea of changing realities; however, it argues that all human actions take place from some perspective or location and if one is not speaking or writing from one's own cultural perspective one has become dislocated. As Asante has said, "the French, German, Japanese, and English do not argue hybridity although those who know recognize that those national cultures are the products of ethnic and cultural mergers" (Asante, 2014). Afrocentricity is therefore a critique of hierarchy in both signs and language and argues that the projection of European hegemony during the recent encounter with Africa has in effect been an assertion of superiority at the cultural level, the level of the writing of history, then at the level of the interpretation of history. There is no alterity except in the language of the definer. For the

Afrocentrist there is only us humans, a concept first explored in Maulana Karenga's designation of his human rights and cultural organization *Us*. The idea is that separation and hierarchical relationships found in the Western society are at the core of our human problem. Asante claims that location is the fundamental source of difference; therefore, it is not biological determinism that influences human communication but cultural place (Asante, 2007). While some postmodernists have tried to deny the nature of "intrinsic meaning" the Afrocentrists have argued that meaning, however differentiated by circumstance, life chances, racism or gender, inheres in the particular condition until that condition is altered. This is precisely why the Afrocentric scholar Ana Monteiro Ferreira called her meme *the demise of the inhuman*. To be human is to be impacted by circumstances. Ferreira sought to hasten the end to a world of chaos and suggested an African idea of harmony and balance (Ferreira, 2014). In the African tradition everything is everything else if we realize the condition of our existence. Consequently, Afrocentricity's first order of business has to be the determination of cultural, political, or economic location. There is no place that is not place, and there are no circumstances that humans are involved with that do not influence them. The attempted negation of African people by Arab and European philosophers from Ibn Khaldun to Hegel, traders in humans, gold, and ivory, historians of race and hegemony, enslavers of non-Islamic and non-Christian believers, and missionaries who cursed at African gods and built their churches on the land of the revered ancestors resulted in a variety of political and cultural responses. Hence, the concentration of *where a person is coming from* as the beginning point of any analysis is central to a full-fledged Afrocentric understanding of situation. Nothing is without context and therefore the role of the Afrocentrist is to probe for perspective, location, attitude and direction in intricate crevices of historical, social, and economic contexts.

In *An Afrocentric Manifesto*, Asante argues that there are five characteristics that establish the Afrocentric framework. The characteristics are: (1) psychological orientations, (2) emotional commitment, (3) political implication, (4) collective textual revision, and (5) socio-economic redefinitions. Each characteristic is determined by context.

Afrocentric scholars have established Afrocentricity as the first fully developed Africological approach to the issues confronting African people. Afrocentricity is not an extension of some idealistic notion of Europe or some pragmatic American response to a problem, but rather a paradigm that shifts the African people to their subject place within their own narrative and furthermore demonstrates the best human qualities based on the virtues of relationships. It is a materialist conception of reality because it discovers its sources in the actual historical and experiential realities of African people. But Afrocentricity does not diminish the search for humanity in other ways although it has been a principal critique of hegemonic Eurocentric domination on social, literary, and historical concepts and terminology. Afrocentricity contends that it is not enough to locate text, persons, or phenomena and return to a default positionality of Eurocentric ideology in relationship to Africa. To really create an innovation in knowledge one must completely overturn the arena where Eurocentrists play their game of one-upmanship in cultural terms. It is quite simple, for example, for one to accept the Afrocentrist's position on African agency and then work to negate that agency. This is why Michael Tillotson's compelling argument in *Invisible Jim Crow* is that African people have had to combat a specialized *agency reduction formation* that appears in every instance where African people seek to advance. Although this is the state or place of our current situation Afrocentrists do not take a nihilistic stand by insisting on a thorough-going cynicism about the condition or possibilities of victory over all forces that hinder human advancement.

Afrocentricity and culture

Négritude, a philosophy created by French speaking Africans, appears as an influence in Afrocentricity but the perspectives are different. Négritude emerges mostly as an aesthetic idea in the works of Léopold Senghor, Leon Damas, and Aimé Césaire. They clearly sought to demonstrate that Africans had their own conceptions of beauty in art, poetry, drama, and other forms of literature. On the other hand, Afrocentricity sees the importance of African agency in every sector and all aspects of the African historical narrative; thus, it is not limited to the aesthetic realm (Asante, 2014).

Maulana Karenga is the first African person, before Stuart Hall or Paul Gilroy, to posit the dramatic importance of culture on the freedom of African people. Karenga's Afrocentric analysis led him to conclude as early as the 1960s that the *"major crisis in the African community is the cultural crisis"* (2008). What he meant by this pronouncement in 1966 was that every issue considered a problem or a negative in the African world can be traced to the dislocation of cultural grounding. This idea formed the foundation of much of what Asante came to write in the 1970s and 1980s. Coupled with Karenga's emphasis on the cultural crisis was his recognition that in the area of human relations there was a profound problem of ethics in the Western world that impacted the psychological location of Africans (Karenga, 1988).

On the other hand, Ama Mazama seeks to address this same issue of ethical and psychological dislocation by proposing a spiritual revival to "re-center" Africans in their own historical experiences (Mazama, 2003). The depth of the spiritual mis-orientation is manifest, in her thinking, in bleaching creams, the idea of reverence for gods that do not dwell in Africa, and in anti-African expressions of religion. These are the traits of a *"lost"* people who often *wander in dis-spirited ways seeking the sounds of their ancestors' names* only to hear the voices of their oppression. Mazama's response is that these "lost" people must either find themselves or be found by those with more historical and cultural consciousness in order to save themselves from the ordeal of anonymity in the Western world. Why is it that the names of African ancestors cannot be heard in the schools, streets, and houses of worship if it is not because Africans have remained marginalized in an alien world? Africans themselves have imitated and often reproduced these same icons of Europe with the same marginalizing effects on themselves,

Maghan Keita examines the nature of the opposition to an Afrocentric projection of history and takes up where Cheikh Anta Diop left off by proposing a theoretical response to the critics of Afrocentric history. Keita's main contention is that one has to allow Africans the right to assert their own history without complexes. He argues for reason and facts as cornerstones on the road to understanding the intricacies of historical records (Keita, 2000). And so Keita is one of the first Afrocentric historians to understand and appreciate the work of Diop in a profound way. This has made Keita's own work a reference point for a break with the past. African historians who were unable to see the truth of Diop's light remain caught in the fog of non-agency. They may be well-trained European or American historians who study Africa, but they have never broken the chains of their disciplinary status. Keita has advanced the critique of historiography farther than others because of his devotion to historical detail.

Ana Maria Monteiro Ferreira, the Portuguese Afrocentrist, launched an interesting javelin into the theoretical mix. She argued that because lots of contemporary thought was anchored in the hegemonic and totalizing views of the Western individual as superior and of Western thought as universal, new theories have surfaced, one after the other, as Western intellectuals and thinkers have tried to answer the anxieties of the Western individual mind and to close

the breach on the Western paradigm caused by the atomization and itemization of people in society. However, she pointed out that there was, “The possibility that African cultures and values bring renewed ethical and social significance to a sustained project of human agency, liberation, and equality...” (Ferreira, 2014). Ferreira is the most important European writing on the role of Afrocentricity in relation to postmodern theories of humanity. She has taken her cue from the immense body of data that exists in the ancient and contemporary African world and has explored the possibilities that Europe, on the way to its colonizing mission, was too quick to dismiss the human inheritance from the more ancient civilizations and cultures of Africa. Afrocentrists tend to agree with her assessment since the marginalization of this way of seeing has meant that it has rarely been given serious attention by Western thinkers. In fact, in the minds of some European writers the easiest action in relationship to any African ideas is to dismiss them. Such arrogance has resulted in cheapening the philosophical insights of some of the most prolific writers in European letters.

The Afrocentric scholar Michael Tillotson seeks to examine the relationship between ideological domination and its influence on the contemporary lives of African Americans. He sees that domination is “aggressively rooted in methods of intellectual inquiry, scholarly debates, national conversation, policy speak and culture” (Tillotson, 2011). Understanding the marginal location of African people within the ideological framework of Europeans gives us a clue to how blacks have been dominated. Thus, Tillotson seeks the “illumination, exploration and critique of post racial discursive interventions ... because if accepted uncritically these concepts have the potential to reduce the collective agency of African Americans” (Tillotson, 2011). He sees *Agency Reduction Formation* as a prominent postmodern phenomenon, but certain elements of the formation have occurred since the first negative encounter between Africans and Europeans in the fifteenth century at least. The idea that Europe was superior, and that Africa was inferior lay at the very core of the belief that every attempt on the part of Africans to assert their agency had to be challenged by Europe. Thus, the notions of the best, the greatest, the first, the most important, and so forth, coming out of Europe became stratagems to complicate and confuse the relationship with African people. In the Americas and especially in the United States these stratagems took the provocative posture of announcing a post racial society as a mechanism to defuse the African thrust for equality. Elements of this mechanism were first seen in ideas such as “race does not exist,” “we live in a post racial society,” and “to speak of race is to speak of the past,” and so forth. What Tillotson has done is to expose both the truths and the falsehoods of such constructions in the American society. As an Afrocentrist he is eager to discover a way around or through ideological threats to the safety and security of African people but he recognizes that there are *Four Pillars of the Post Racial Moment* that present challenges to African agency. These are *Essentialism*, *Social Construction of Race*, *Post Modernism*, and *Color-Blindedness*. Each of these constructions has the potential of dislocating African people. Tillotson’s work in dismantling these pillars is one of the major achievements of Afrocentric critique.

Another scholar, Reiland Rabaka argues that “In order to theorize blackness – and some might even argue in order to practice blackness, which is to say, to actually and fully *live* our Africanity – some type of thought or, rather more to the point, some form of philosophy will be required” (Rabaka, 2009). Indeed, Rabaka claims that “Africana critical theory involves not only the critique of domination and discrimination, but also a deep commitment to human liberation and constant social transformation” (Rabaka, 2009). Thus, the Afrocentric theorist has privileged both the critique and the commitment functions of an Afrocentric enterprise. Rabaka’s project is to construct a theoretical response to those who

would prefer to limit Afrocentricity's fundamental groundbreaking rupture with Eurocentric domination. To do this he has used African agency to reveal new frontiers of knowledge and deliver powerful interpretative avenues for understanding various forms of aesthetics. Rabaka's work resonates with the newer writings of the philosophers Lewis Gordon and Lucius Outlaw who also show influences from the Afrocentric School.

The late Senegalese scholar Cheikh Anta Diop is credited with re-orienting African historiography and setting the quest for truth in the last half of the twentieth century. It was Diop's turn to ancient Africa, especially Egypt and Nubia, for the source of Africa's civilization that pierced the thin skin of a European origin to Nile Valley civilizations and set the research of Africans, most still colonized when Diop's first work, *Nations negre et culture*, was presented to La Sorbonne for his doctoral dissertation. Nevertheless, by 1973 he had risen to the top of African historical research with his relentless studies of African languages, symbols, myths, and kinship categories and was invited to the United Nations conference on the Peopling of Egypt in Cairo where he, and his protogee, Theophile Obenga, dominated the intellectual discourse and proved through several avenues, linguistics, paintings, correspondence of cultures, melanin studies of mummies, and proximity, that ancient Egypt was, as Diop says, "a Black African Civilization" (Diop, 1974). The conclusion made by Diop and Obenga reverberated around the globe. Only two African scholars invited to the conference had reset the discussion of classical Africa. From 1973 forward the debate about the origin of the ancient Egyptians was nothing more than vestiges of the racist diatribes that had been presented in the nineteenth century by Europeans who could not believe that "blacks" had produced the pyramids of Egypt and Sudan. Nevertheless, Diop's work sparked an outpouring of other books and articles and caused an Afrocentric revolution in the historiography of Africa because Diop's assertion that the history of Africa could not be written without a connection to the Nile Valley inspired numerous indigenous scholars to re-think the nature of their own local histories.

Molefi Kete Asante has called himself a Diopian because he uses Diop's vision of a historiography founded on the principle of African assertion, neither foreign nor alien, as the beginning of his analysis of culture in the African world. By the time Asante articulated his view of African agency the field had been amply supplied with the seeds of Diop's thoughts and consequently Asante's Afrocentricity benefitted from the fact that he no longer had to argue whether Greeks or Arabs or other-worldly creatures built the pyramids. The facts had been established as Diop and his colleagues such as John Henrik Clarke, John Jackson, Yosef ben Jochannon, Ivan van Sertima, and Moussa Lam, had already covered the ground of what African people did and could do. What remained to be done to firmly set the Afrocentric pedestals in place was to open the door to tropes of a new grammar to speak of Africa. Asante took on terminology such as *Black Africa*, *Africa South of the Sahara*, *Negro*, *Pygmy*, *Primitive*, *Huts*, *Natives*, *Tribes*, *Slavery*, *Rational and Emotional Man*, *Subhuman*, *Emotion*, *Double Consciousness*, *Middle Ages*, *Universal Man*, and scores of other words and terms that had been used to assert European superiority.

There were four books published by Asante on Afrocentricity between the years 1980 and 1998. They were *Afrocentricity* (1980), *Kemet, Afrocentricity and Knowledge* (1990); *The Afrocentric Idea* (1992, 1998); and *Malcolm X as Cultural Hero and other Afrocentric Essays* (2001). Asante wrote articles in more than twenty different journals in North America, Africa, Europe, Asia, and South America that generated wide interest in the field. Although the theoretical work was necessary it was also essential that Asante be able to demonstrate a practical example of Afrocentric intellectual work. This was done with the creation of the first doctoral program in African American Studies in the world.

The proposal to create a Ph.D. program in African American Studies had come after intense discussion with Peter Liacouras, then President of Temple University. He had wanted to know what it would take to have the best African American Studies program in the nation. Asante presented the idea of a doctoral program to the University and after more than a year winding its way through the various committees and deans the proposal was viewed by the Board of Trustees and then approved. The first Ph.D. in African American Studies was granted to Adeniyi Coker from Nigeria in 1990. Creating the degree program was the easy part, building a strong curriculum based on the new disciplinary philosophy would be a much more difficult task.

Between 1984 and 1996 there emerged at Temple University a group of scholars committed to African agency that changed the nature of the study of African people. This cadre of individuals led by Molefi Kete Asante, C. Tsehloane Keto, and Ama Mazama included variously Nah Dove, Thelma Ravell-Pinto, Kariamu Welsh, and Theophile Obenga, among others. Describing themselves as Afrologists or Africologists these scholars explored works in history, literature, dance, and sociology, producing books and articles on all subjects. They had arrived at Temple from numerous other universities and soon found common purpose in discovering the agency and centered place of Africans in narratives and phenomena related to black people. Asante had been educated at the University of California, Los Angeles; Keto studied at the University of Kansas; Mazama had received highest distinction at La Sorbonne; Obenga came from the University at Bordeaux; and Welsh had received her doctorate from New York University. In many ways, especially in publications, but also in the assertiveness of theory and philosophical perspectives, this was perhaps one of the densest collections of Afrocentric intellectuals. Asante, as the creator of the first Ph.D. in African American Studies could claim that the Temple School was the vanguard movement in Black Studies and with numerous publications and doctoral graduates the proof was in the pudding itself.

Afrocentricity has attracted enough detractors for any theoretical idea. Mary Lefkowitz (*Not out of Africa*) and Stephen Howe (*Afrocentrism*) have been the two most significant white critics. Lefkowitz is an American and Howe a British professor. Asante has dealt with their works in his book, *The Painful Demise of Eurocentrism*. Also among the critics have been the British-Ghanaian, Kwame Anthony Appiah, a philosopher, who has found the idea of Afrocentricity difficult to accept because he sees it as promoting essentialism. Afrocentrists usually point out that Europe created essentialism and the idea is foreign to Afrocentricity. Alongside Appiah, the African American historian Clarence E. Walker is remarkable for his misunderstanding of Afrocentricity. Walker believes that Afrocentricity is not just bad history, but that it is based on a myth that Africans achieved heights in culture and civilization that are just not true. In Walker's view the Afrocentrist is seeking to build something that does not exist or to pursue something that is an illusion. Much like Appiah who has often attacked other forms of African culture, Walker is familiar with all of the canards that have been thrown around by anti-Afrocentrist and he uses them to argue that Afrocentrists are promoting a false idea. Afrocentrists have criticized these ideas by insisting that Afrocentricity cannot be condensed to history. Furthermore, Africans on the continent and in the Diaspora do exist as a fact. One cannot argue that the centrality of Africans in their own narratives of history or philosophy are unreal. What Appiah and Walker and perhaps others who object have shown is like Mary Lefkowitz and Stephen Howe they are essentially tied to Eurocentric responses about African agency. Their views have had little impact on the growth and development of Afrocentricity. Few critics of Afrocentricity even quote from Afrocentrists; they are second-hand commentators for the most part.

The critics have been joined by a number of outstanding scholars who recognize the contributions of Afrocentrists. Lewis Gordon, a prominent African philosopher, published a book on African Philosophy that showed the influences of Afrocentric philosophers and historians such as Cheikh Anta Diop, John Henrik Clarke, and Theophile Obenga. Gordon's work has established a new baseline for examining Afrocentric works in philosophy. In some ways, Asante's *Ancient Egyptian Philosophers* is now seen as one of the important introductions to the study of African philosophy because it anticipates Gordon's book and introduces the reader to the earliest philosophers such as Imhotep, Ptahhotep, Duauf, Merikare, Akhenaten, and Amenhotep, son of Hapu. David Hughes, Afrocentric Architect, established an entirely new inroad into the discourse on African and African American architecture. Monte O. Harris, Afrocentric plastic surgeon, has explored the relationship between beauty, health, and identity as a form of alignment to wellness.

On the international scene Afrocentricity has had an impact on Asian scholars as well. Yoshitaka Miike, the leading Japanese communication cultural theorist, has maintained an interactive dialogue and correspondence with Afrocentrists Molefi Kete Asante, Ama Mazama and Maulana Karenga for many years. They have participated in several joint intellectual projects as a result of Miike's own development of the Asiatic paradigm used in the analysis and criticism of Asian communication. Furthermore, Miike has concretely linked the total understanding of communication theory to a necessary influence of Asian philosophy. Miike is considered the father of Asiaticity because he explained that Asian communication must be evaluated on the basis of Asian philosophies. Thus, his Asiaticity, and that of Jing Yin, has revolutionized thinking in the field of intercultural and international communication by reducing the dependency on theories that are grounded only in a Western tradition. Humans live in a shared environment and the built-environment of Asia has depended upon different ideas than those of Europe or Africa. Finding inspiration in what the Afrocentrists have done Miike has pushed the idea that the voice of Asia must join any discussion of world communication (Miike, 2014). Afrocentrists have found the dialogue with Asiaticists to be fruitful and valuable in creating innovation in human relationships.

Although Afrocentricity reverberates in psychology, sociology, history, social work, and cultural studies there are numerous communication scholars who have utilized concepts that may be called Afrocentric. Cecil Blake, Renaldo Anderson, Carolyn Calloway-Thomas, and Ron Jackson, among others, have written on Afrocentric themes. In addition, a new cadre of Afrofuturists have announced that Afrocentricity is the foundation for a new approach to an African futurism. These writers, artists, and performers have emerged out of several traditional disciplines to assert an Afrocentric component to iconic symbolism, studies of the human body, and creations suggesting the advancement of intellectual insights from ancient Africa.

Finally, Afrocentricity is not a hegemonic idea and does not promote a particular vision as universal. Texts of all kind are made from cultural materials and Afrocentrists claim that all cultural productions are ultimately the results of collective agency. One cannot read the *Kebra Nagast* and not connect the authors to the culture of the Ethiopians or the *Odu Ifa* and connect the literature to the Yoruba. One cannot understand a speech by a Shogun of Japan and disconnect it from Japanese culture. Therefore, African views as expressed by African agency must find room at the table of humanity; otherwise we will continue to fight for the space that we know exists.

References

- Asante, Molefi Kete. *Afrocentricity*. Trenton: Africa World Press, 1980.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. *Kemet, Afrocentricity and Knowledge*. Trenton: Africa World Press, 1990.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. *The Afrocentric Idea*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1998.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. *Malcolm X as Cultural Hero and Other Afrocentric Essays*. Trenton: Africa World Press, 2001.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. *An Afrocentric Manifesto*. Cambridge: Polity, 2007.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. *Facing South to Africa: essays toward an Afrocentric Orientation*. New York: Lexington, 2014.
- Diop, Cheikh A. *The African Origin of Civilization*. New York: Lawrence Hill, 1974.
- Ferreira, Ana Monteiro. *The Demise of the Inhuman: afrocentricity, Modernism and Postmodernism*. Albany: SUNY Press, 2014.
- Karenga, Maulana. "Black Studies and the Problematic of Paradigm: the Philosophical Dimension," *Journal of Black Studies*, 18, 4 (June, 1988) 395–414.
- Karenga, Maulana. *Kawaida and Questions of Life and Struggle*. Los Angeles: University of Sankore Press, 2008.
- Keita, Maghan. *Race and the Writing of History*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2000.
- Mazama, Ama, ed., *The Afrocentric Paradigm*. Trenton: Africa World Press, 2003.
- Miike, Yoshitaka, "Asiacentricity," Center for Intercultural Dialogue, July 21, 2014.
- Myers, Linda James. *Understanding an Afrocentric Worldview*. Kendall-Hunt, 1993.
- Rabaka, Reiland. *Africana Critical Theory: reconstructing the Black Radical Tradition from W. E. B. Du Bois and C. L. R. James to Frantz Fanon and Amílcar Cabral*. New York: Lexington Books, 2009.
- Tillotson, Michael. *Invisible Jim Crow*. Trenton: Africa World Press, 2011.

African feminism

Lyn Ossome

Introduction

The question regarding whether a coherent tradition that is philosophically and politically discernible as “African feminism” exists, or whether what exists is a diverse and not necessarily amenable set of feminist trajectories among women (or more historically, gendered subjects) in Africa, continues to be definitive of the debates on feminism in Africa. This question itself suggests a conceptual conflation (between African feminism/feminism in Africa) that is both necessary and unavoidable, as both are represented along the spectrum of what has constituted the expanse of social and political praxis by African women across time. Both are historically situated in that they highlight a political concern with what movements resemble, what they do, why they take on particular issues and characteristics, what an African vantage point reveals, and the ways in which collective identification with them functions politically and socially. Over the course of history, the distinction between (African) feminism as tradition on the one hand, and as a political orientation (ideology) on the other, has been transgressed and blurred, depending on the political demands of the time. Furthermore, across our histories, women have formed many transformative movements when faced with particular political questions – movements which latter dissolved or sublated to other questions and in this sense may be understood in their historicity. Such periodic alliances also then form the cornucopia of African feminism/feminism in Africa. As such while conceding definitional pitfalls and conceptual tensions between the two, this chapter builds on the notion of “African feminism,” both as an assertion of a coherent historical political tradition, and methodologically as offering the possibility for critique in relation to feminisms politically located elsewhere, and against which African women have sought to distinguish our claims as historically contingent, situated, and structurally defined.

A number of debates and varying positions on African feminism provide insight into the contested nature of this terrain of thought and struggle. One current in the debates outrightly rejects identification with Western feminism and asserts a variant of maternal determinism disarticulated from difference and in Desiree Lewis’s analysis, is celebratory of purely symbolic roles for women, or affirming gendered roles of service and nurturing.¹ Mikell has for instance, written that African feminism “has largely been shaped by African women’s resistance to Western hegemony and its legacy within African culture ... [and] does not

grow out of bourgeois individualism and the patriarchal control over women within capitalist industrializing societies.”² As such, Mikell problematically asserts, “[t]he debates in many Western countries about essentialism, the female body, and radical feminism are not characteristic of new African feminism ... [r]ather, the slowly emerging African feminism is distinctly heterosexual, pro-natal, and concerned with many ‘bread, butter, culture, and power’ issues.”³ Noting the “deeply conservative” thrust of this argument and arguing for a more robust critique of social, political, economic subjectivities, others insist that “essentialist evocations of geographical, national or racial criteria as decisive grounds for defining African feminism are especially untenable in our current context of intensified globalization.”⁴

Rather, acknowledging African diasporic, Pan Africanist, and continental interconnectivity, a more progressive current views the potency of African feminism as located within “a shared intellectual commitment to critiquing gender and imperialism coupled with a collective focus on a continental identity shaped by particular relations of subordination in the world economy and global social and cultural practices.”⁵ Furthermore, women’s entry and participation in economic and political life has broadened the scope of concepts such as “freedom,” “emancipation,” and “democracy,” such that it is impossible to think of them today outside of the co-constitutive meanings with which women’s actions have imbued them. As such, pitting African feminism against Western feminism misses the objective conditions and manifestations of domination, exploitation, subordination against which feminists everywhere articulate their claims, albeit in historically distinct/differentiated relation to the structuring power of race, ethnicity, sexuality, age, gender, class, and so on.

Historical expressions and debates

Feminist commitments to writing women, and in particular, African women back into history have critiqued women’s deliberate silencing in colonial historiography and highlight various practices of agency and resistances to colonial domination as producing a discernible concept of what might be termed as the “political” for those women. “Discernible” because women’s political activities and activism have to be read in relation to their positionality against the structures of domination pertaining at any historical conjuncture. So for instance, while justice emerges in more contemporary feminist discourses as a specific claim in relation to the state, it does not accurately account for the imperatives that drove anticolonial resistance and struggles. Those struggles were more accurately articulating questions of power and liberation. To speak of “justice” is misleading because there is no actual basis for reading the colonial state as a “just” state: the colonized natives exist fundamentally *outside* of the state’s notion of citizenship and rights claims, yet at the same time are incorporated into the colonial state’s *raison d’être* as “Captive Maternals” – “those most vulnerable to violence, war, poverty, police, and captivity; those whose very existence enables the possessive empire that claims and dispossesses them” [and who] “can either be biological females or those feminized into caretaking and consumption”⁶ – a notion of social reproduction to which I shall return in the critical assessment of contemporary African feminist debates. To James, “off-continuum politics that resist ... rebellion through boycott, protest, or even riot becomes an act of the uncivil.”⁷ The “uncivility” of African women’s struggles of the past is at present claimed as a necessary weapon of feminist struggles on the continent, again denoting epistemological lineages.

Just as well, given that colonialists neither had women as their focus, nor initiated any possibility of extending the realm of “civil society” to African women as was a possibility available to a small number of male African elites. African women’s ‘riots’ in the colonial

period, while dangerous and impactful, could *not* in the strictest sense be considered as transgressive as they did not violate any formal codes to which their control had been ascribed. African women existed *outside of* the formal coding of natives – partly as a strategy of their pacification. Rather their control was assured by forcefully disrupting and redirecting women's productive and reproductive labours towards the colonial empire and enterprise of accumulation. In this endeavour, I have shown elsewhere that the control of women's sexuality was central both to the ways in which male resistance to colonialism became publicly articulated, and to the ways in which women developed a sense of political agency. In addition, the gendered division of labour and control especially of women's labour by colonial authorities provoked women's mobilization and organizing.⁸ Many instances abound from the historical epoch of colonialism which illustrate the contradictory ways in which colonial powers perceived, reconstructed, and reacted to women's political agency.

This was illustrated in the context of the *Mau Mau* rebellion in Kenya, where colonialists did eventually recognize the threat that women as a group distinct from men posed to the colonial project. The British administration sought to implement a differentiation strategy that led them to a triple dichotomy of women as spouses of *Mau Mau*, women as domestic workers, and single women based in the city – categories which sought to minimize women's militancy. Such definitions were also an attempt to find an inclusive definition of the female component in *Mau Mau* in the hope of resolving the basic contradictions thrown up by colonialist policies towards women.⁹ The basic view that prevailed was on the one hand, of women as "victimized" and "instrumentalised" by *Mau Mau*, and on the other hand, a recognition of women's activism as fundamental to the movement's operations – an acknowledgment of women as a threat in their own right – which ultimately served to legitimize the ways in which colonialists responded to women.¹⁰ Yet colonialists were never fully able to grasp how they themselves defined the threat that women posed to them, despite the force they exerted upon women. The general belief among colonialists, of women as a much more subversive force, became more entrenched in the Emergency period,¹¹ as increasingly it was women, way more than men, who were seen as sustaining the movement. The implications of this underrating of women's resistance roles was twofold: first, colonialists assumed that "protecting" women would resolve their perceived ambivalence – a solution for which the colonial administration mandated detention and rehabilitation programs. Second, by denying any contribution of women in the nationalist project, colonial thought on women's involvement in the *Mau Mau* also denied women's agency.¹²

In another widely cited context of the Aba Women's War in Nigeria – a historical event variously referred to as the "Aba Women's Riot of 1929" and "the Women's Revolt of 1929," scholars have also pointed out the attempts at subversion: that terming this event a "riot" by the British was a deliberate attempt to downplay its impact on future history, and by extension, a denial of women's agency.¹³ The British refused to acknowledge that the war was in fact, a systematically organized socioeconomic protest movement (that cut across six ethnic groups – Ibibio, Andoni, Ogoni, Bonny, Opobo and Igbo women) of southeastern Nigeria comprising women motivated by specific grievances, directed at achieving certain clear-cut social, economic and political goals.¹⁴ The women's demands were radical: that the government exclude women from taxation; to stop [government] counting personal property and arresting of prostitutes; cancellation of rent payments for women's market sheds; abolish fees for licenses to stage women's dances; dismissal of the warrant chief; and that men too, should no longer be taxed.¹⁵ To simply surmise the end of the war as "tragic" is again, to minimise the profound effect it had in consolidating women's struggles against colonial institutionalisation of their exploitation. Although they did not win their

final battle, the women broke with taboo, exposed the absurdity of the colonial project, and “succeeded in shaking the foundations of colonial rule” through a plethora of reforms to which the colonial government acquiesced, marking the first steps of colonial disengagement in Nigeria.¹⁶

Another area where women’s movements were particularly important in anticolonial activity was southwestern Nigeria. There, women possessed a long and rich history of collective organization through which they articulated and protected their interests from pre-colonial times onward.¹⁷ As Johnson (1982) has also argued, colonialism altered women’s position in their societies, particularly affecting their economic roles and ability to participate in local government. Southwestern Nigerian women quickly perceived the nature of the threat to their interests and regrouped their forces in order to preserve their interests. Usually this centered on organizing market women along new lines, utilizing both traditional skills and concepts of leadership as well as western protest actions. Like the Fante and Ga Confederacies in the Gold Coast or the Egba Board of Management in Abeokuta, the new organizations represented the uniting of the western educated elite leadership and traditional Yoruba leadership and institutions in order to promote the welfare of Yoruba women within the changed circumstances of the colonial situation.¹⁸ Two particularly significant movements in this regard were the Lagos Market Women’s Association (LMWA) led by Madam Alimotu Pelewura, and the Abeokuta Women’s Union (AWU) led by Mrs. Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti (formerly Ransome-Kuti) (*ibid.*). As with their Igboland counterparts, the most important grievance of the LMWA had been taxation and food price controls; the AWU also protested taxation without representation,¹⁹ and demanded the abdication of the Alake (traditional ruler), and abolition of the Sole Native Authority system (SNA)²⁰ and its replacement by a more representative form of government which would include women representatives.²¹ The women were vigilant of colonial attempts to undermine their productive and reproductive economies, and sustained militant protests expressing economic and political grievances, which also influenced the rise of militant mass anticolonial movements.

What these historical recorded instances of the militancy of women highlight is an earlier point regarding the fact that African women under colonial rule stood beyond the pale of the law, and their recourse to (uncivil) disobedience ought to be understood in this regard. As Johnson (1982) writes of the AWU in Abeokuta, “[w]hen it became abundantly clear that going through the proper channels – petitions, test cases in court, and publicity in the press – produced no results, the AWU adopted more radical methods – sit-ins, mass protest, demonstrations, and outright refusal to pay taxes. The new militant approach began early in 1947 when Kuti refused to pay her taxes.”²² There is an immanence here in the fact that the particular conditions faced by women at those different historical junctures and to which they variously responded, also dialectically produced within them the modes of resistance and thus, possibility of social and political change: stated differently, the (political) form of society also produced within it the modes of protest and resistance. These were, of course, historically specific and would inevitably take on different form in the post-independence period as African women gained greater access to civic spaces, and as their nominal claims to citizenship modified the modes of social protest and resistance available to them – albeit retaining a complex relationship with the weapons of the past.

It is necessary though to also point out the contradictory nature of women’s participation in the anticolonial movement. I have, for instance shown in the case of Kenya, that despite having extended their political responsibilities, women were largely circumscribed from developing a political discourse centered on the women-related issues which in the early

years of colonialism had characterized their experiences of nationalism.²³ The idea of women's weakness and corruptibility became strengthened as colonial tactics of forced rule became more desperate and as colonial authorities sought to grapple with their own contradictory perceptions of women. The colonialists' redefinition of gender roles and attempts to devalue women's productive and reproductive roles in the subsistence and colonial economies had far-reaching consequences on the process of imagining and constructing a women's movement with nationwide significance in the postindependence period. Characteristic of colonial rule, the bifurcated state became stabilized along the social, ethno-political, and economic crevices engendered through the violent control and manipulation of natives' labour, mobility, kinship networks, and gender solidarities.²⁴

As a result, in the postindependence transition period political participation for many African women literally found new expression – as highly urbanized and subordinated movements, alienated from their long histories of organic modes of political organizing that had been articulated to their struggles for survival and livelihood – struggles over land, food, and freedom. New regimes of control reconfigured the economic as well as political insertion of women into the independent state. In countries such as Kenya, where transition to independence had been negotiated between the colonial authorities and largely moderate African nationalists, the latter sought assurance not only in the stabilization of existing class configurations, but also reaffirmed a gender order which would not threaten the patrimonial hegemony through which the colonialists had perfected their exploitative and accumulative onslaught on the country. The “place” of women was clearly defined under such arrangements as the country transitioned into the postindependence period, the legacies of which would extend well into the era of democratization.²⁵

Yet women's historically distinct forms of organizing had not yet been shed. Rather what was lost in the *longue durée* of colonial, patriarchal reconstitution of feminist agency and women's power had been the social, cultural, and political resources, which had steadily shifted to exclude women, and at independence, consolidated around narrow masculinist nationalist politics that albeit deracialized, did not manage to detribalize – thus setting the stage for identitarian forms of violence that mark the terrain of African feminist struggles at present. The anachronism of postindependence African states burdened with ethnic identitarianism was deeply intertwined with the colonial imperative of indirect rule.²⁶ From independence onwards, we see the deliberate appropriation and commodification of women's associational practices and labor by the state, through the very organs of the women's movement through which women had sought to build autonomy and self-sufficiency as their traditional networks began to drastically shift under late colonial capitalism. In the era of neoliberalization that also ushered in multiparty politics, the women's movement's retreat from class analysis and the submerging of women's postcolonial concerns under the liberal rubric of human rights and women's rights thus bore little apparent logic of women's particular structural positions and oppression under neoliberalism.²⁷ The enterprise of (both structural and embodied) violence against women – a profound preoccupation of our contemporary feminist struggles in Africa – ought then to be understood in relation to this long history of dispossession.

Major contemporary debates in African feminism

Contemporary movements of African women have precipitated a more deliberate turn towards a political identification with “African feminism” as positionality, existential praxis and political/philosophical vantage point, yet this shift has also been marked by a disarticulation between elite,

urban-based feminist movements and rural-based women's movements, which although retaining an ideological commitment to the emancipation of African women as a whole, renders it more tenuous to speak collectively of "African feminism" as a coherent whole. Rather, what contemporary struggles shore up are multiple locations of struggle and resistance that are at times contradictory, though not inimical.

Beginning in the late 1980s when structural adjustment took hold on the continent, disguising neo-imperialist interests, the accompanying political and economic liberalisation shifted struggles towards an intensified period of constitutionalism, which has fundamentally structured and redirected feminist claims towards questions of human/women's rights, political participation, representation, and to a politics of recognition. Furthermore, the professionalization of the women's movement – the gradual shift from grassroots feminism in the colonial period, towards state feminism in the early postindependence nationalist period, to the neoliberal "shrinking" of the state in direct provisioning of welfare which paved way for nongovernmental organization – what some have termed as "NGOization" – has gradually (ironically) redirected feminist claims in a more structured manner through identification with the state. The scholarship has also shown the effects of deepening authoritarianism and conservative public politics that have accompanied neoliberalization.²⁸

The "neoliberal squeeze" has been experienced at the level of the family, household, community, in institutions of higher learning, and the state, with the outcome that the articulation within the women's movement of either progressive or conservative politics have largely been defined through various state regime politics. As spaces for feminist activism increasingly retreated from (increasingly conservative and militaristic) university spaces, the proliferation of nongovernmental organizations did afford alternative frameworks within which feminist organizing could proceed. Yet as Khatak (2014) notes, while this created room for women, it also engendered a reactionary position in relation to the family, causatively linked to the fact that some donors were keen to strengthen the family.²⁹ Neoliberalization's enduring "gift" to feminist organising in Africa has then been the necessity to innovate, reimagine, and reclaim a rebellious tradition of struggle that once again exceeds the "civil," "liberal," constitutionalism that has largely been a conversation between the liberal state and elite women.

If the historical present is one that has again shored up questions of neocolonialism, monopoly finance capitalism, imperialism, patriarchy, exploitation, and the carceral state (against which emancipation, freedom, desubjection and decolonization emerge as primary demands), then we must of necessity locate feminist activism in Africa within these questions and demands. Firstly, there has in the course of the past few years, been a profound generational reckoning with the limits of appealing to the very structures and institutions that disenfranchise women and necessitate justice claims. In more intensified ways than ever before, *injury* marks the space of struggle for a younger generation of feminist activists on the continent at present. As so aptly put by a recent collective conference statement

"decolonisation" in "our" contexts inevitably began with the gendered and sexualized violence of colonial/Apartheid legacies and of the newly independent state-nation. In other words, sexual violence has been the defining experience of gendered, sexualized, caste-d, and racialised bodies in the postcolony, and unsurprisingly, an issue that has been at the heart of feminist struggles in these locales.³⁰

Weary from seemingly insurmountable struggles for the implementation of gender violence laws and policies, and recognizing the limits of institutionalized responses to everyday forms

of sexual and gendered violence, the articulated position of African women (and more broadly, women of the global south) seeking an end to violence is that this cannot be accomplished if not also conditioned upon anti-racist, anti-capitalist, decolonial struggles, and struggles against gender inequality.

Among others, this has meant engaging thematically with labour questions, including taking radical positions in relation to the recognition of sex work, domestic labour remuneration, informal economy, migrant labour and “free” labour performed for the reproduction of families and households. The stand taken by African feminists is distinctly different from the liberal feminist mantra of inclusion, recognition, equality, citizenship. In the emerging African feminist discourse and struggles around rape and gendered violence – embodied by student movements (FMF/RMF, #menaretrash) – the modes of activism are deeply articulated to a critique of the ways in which black women have been reconstituted in the post-colonial state as both already violated and as *violable*, the ways in which we experience the state as violent, and the ways in which the neoliberal state has tended to redirect injury through recourse to the criminalization of women’s labour, dress, speech, and sexuality. As the *Intimacy and Injury* statement further observes: the #MeToo

intervention [has] positioned itself as a direct challenge to the limits of the law and one of challenging “due process” through the tactics of public shaming and shifting the burden of proof from the accuser to the accused. In generationally inflected narratives of feminism’s evolution, the time had come, it was said, to move feminist politics “beyond the law.”³¹

Alongside the strategic significance that violence takes in the contemporary subjective positioning of African women are debates on sexuality and heteronormativity which expose some contradictions inherent to the African feminist project. Queer African feminists provide an important lens into these contradictions, noting the religious and cultural underpinnings of homophobia, and exposing the conventions that link traditional institutions of marriage, rites of passage, childbearing/rearing etc. to normative sex and gender roles. Furthermore, claiming queer positionalities within African feminism has also opened up the possibility of challenging racist, anti-black-women, homophobic, homonationalist, and colorist rhetoric that have nominally been concealed/marginalized by the universalizing rhetoric of a “shared” social orientation among African women. This radical queer commitment towards critiquing African feminism from “within” responds in part to the following question: how can African feminism, to paraphrase Dhawan (2014) “be taken beyond [its heteropatriarchal] confines ... and be made to work for [its] ‘Other’?” Furthermore,

does it suffice to critique Western operations of racist and imperialist violence or must not the postcolony confront its own failures? And...how does one safeguard that this auto-critique is not instrumentalized to disqualify postcolonial-queer-feminist-perspectives?³²

These questions have larger political implications than merely constructing an identitarian position within African feminist thought. The “anti-homosexuality” debates and criminalization of same-sex relations in Africa have remained marginal to dominant African feminist debates and emerge (perhaps positively?) as a terrain of struggle *within* the feminist movements(s). Yet attention to the ways in which these discourses have been manipulated and instrumentalised by African governments do in my view, center them as important

analytical tools in our relation to the imperialist West. Brown's words in this regard ring true, that there are powers that possess discernible logics, but lack political form or organization, let alone subjective and coordinated intentionality.³³ Such powers inadvertently (re) produce themselves through discernible spaces of power like democracy, which is then subjected to its machinations. As such, the incubation of an LGBTQI discursive space in many African countries (e.g. South Africa, Kenya, Uganda) must be read in tandem with the objectives of the deeply rooted neocolonial links they retain with the US and the West.³⁴ What is lost

is much more than a genuine space for making rights claims by those individuals or groups disenfranchised by a greedy, corrupt, repressive, and inequitable state. It is also the case that out of the artificial binary imposed by human rights between "legitimate" and "illegitimate" claims, those assumed as more deserving of protection – the "hungry masses" – are also the ones most penuriously injured by this falsehood. The deception being that homosexuality becomes the totality of "that" which ails society. The choice offered between one set of (morally corrupting) rights and another set of transcendental human rights is also the application of liberal "choice" as an instrument of capitalist domination.³⁵

The question of capitalist domination remains a central one in African feminist debates, with land as one of its most compelling thematic questions. Across many African countries especially in settler colonies, the land question remains unresolved and a source of much contemporary debate, contestation and violence. From Zimbabwe – where "the most important land reform after the Cold War"³⁶ took place – to Kenya, South Africa, and Uganda, land retains significance not only as a means of production, but significantly for the land poor and effectively landless peasantry that predominates in much of Africa, as a means of survival and for social reproduction. The continuities between the peasant and land articulations of the agrarian question in the anticolonial period, and the present demands arising in the back of large scale land dispossession (termed by some as renewed primitive accumulation), have also shored up contemporary agrarian questions, among which of particular concern for African feminist agrarian scholars has been the agrarian question of gendered labour.³⁷ That is, the reliance of capitalism on exploitative relations of production, the base of which is supported by the unremunerated/under-remunerated, casualized gendered labour that reproduces and sustains the massive numbers of surplus labourers that are daily being expended from manufacturing and industry in ongoing processes of semi-proletarianization.

The effects of this "pyramid" is felt most acutely in countries of the global south. In Africa, where more than 70% of the population remains agrarianised, the insistence by feminist political economists on posing these exploitative gender relations as a contemporary agrarian question is meant to write African women back into the continent's narrative of dispossession and development, and to expose the contradictions entailed in resolving the land and/or peasant questions without commensurate attention to women. Furthermore, in highlighting the extent to which social reproduction in Africa depends to a great extent on access to private lands, common lands and nature, we are asserting a fundamentally different approach to a question (the crisis of social reproduction) that is common to capitalism everywhere. In this regard, an approach grounded in African feminism must take seriously the structural implications of uneven development, accumulation by dispossession, renewed forms of primitive accumulation, and the role of gender as a condition of possibility for these processes. For feminists writing from Africa, the significance of land is therefore much

more than a “resource” and the basis of “development.” Land retains significance as the basis of survival, as a symbol of connectivity, of ritual, ancestry, and as a historical claim against the distortions imposed upon African people by colonial plundering.

The thematic areas covered here are by no means exhaustive of the breadth of intellectual and activist questions being posed by African feminists. My point rather has been to avoid the obvious pitfalls of attempting to “speak/think for,” but rather to “speak/think within” a tradition of feminism grounded in African realities. That is to say, if part of the difficulty in defining what African feminism is relates to the multiplicity of its projects/commitments, then the methodological and conceptual building blocks through which these multiple sites of struggle have been constituted must be clarified on an ongoing basis, and as part of our theorization and praxis. It helps to think of this in relation to standpoint theory which holds that there are some perspectives on society from which, however well-intentioned one may be, the real relations of humans with each other and with the natural world are not visible.³⁸ There are a number of epistemological and political claims tied to this contention: i) that material life (class position) not only structures but sets limits on the understanding of social relations; ii) that the vision of the rulers, the powerful, is bound to be dominant, and is therefore partial; iii) that the fact that this vision, and also gender, structures the material relations in which we are forced to participate cannot be dismissed as false; iv) and as such, the vision available to the oppressed group must be struggled for; v) that adoption of a standpoint exposes the real relations among human beings as inhuman, points beyond the present, and carries a historically liberatory role.³⁹ Standpoint draws from an assumption that all epistemology develops in a complex and contradictory way from material life, and as such has epistemological and ontological significance to human activity. That it is possible, out of this, to develop *tools* with which to understand the particular ways in which (African) women experience oppression.

Conclusion

If there is one thing that our collective African feminists histories have assured us of, it is that any politics, especially of a feminist variant, structured around a critique of coloniality, and which in its external bearings threatens to resurrect not just a history of “indisciplined” rebellious women such as those highlighted earlier, is likely to be met with massive resistance, both from the conservative forces within it, but also, and especially, from those who have historically denied female agency and power as transformative forces in society. It is in tracing the crevices of both these (re)emerging feminist spaces and claims in Africa, and the forms of resistance that are being deployed both for and against them, that we might arrive at a more concrete notion of a tradition that might be termed as African feminism.

Furthermore, to insist on African feminism as primarily representing a vantage point – an ideological commitment to understanding the world (history) of women from a political and philosophical position that is counter-hegemonic and grounded in African realities and that is sympathetic to subaltern, enslaved, colonised voices – is necessarily to reject a vulgar mutation that privileges geographical positioning as ontological. It is to say that the cornucopia of debates that are seeking to express and represent the condition of women in Africa gain coherence as “African feminist,” not because of *who* is authorised to speak with or on behalf of African women, but rather because *what* is articulated centres African women as protagonists of their actual lived realities – an understanding that our histories have also bequeathed to us the tools with which to fight for and imagine a more emancipated feminist existence. African feminism is then, the necessary condition for our political subjectivation as women in Africa: “political” because we are always faced with the question of power and liberation.

Notes

- 1 Desiree Lewis, "African Feminisms." *Agenda* 50, no. 1 (2001): 5.
- 2 Gwendolyn Mikell, *African Feminism: The Politics of Survival in Sub-Saharan Africa* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1997), 4. See also Catherine O. Acholounu, O. Catherine. *Motherism: The Afrocentric Alternative to Feminism* (Abuja: Afa Publications, 1995).
- 3 Mikell, *African Feminism*, 4.
- 4 Lewis, "African Feminisms," 4.
- 5 Ibid, 5.
- 6 Joy James. "The Womb of Western Theory: Trauma, Time Theft, and the Captive Maternal." *Carceral Notebooks*, 2016, 255.
- 7 Ibid, 258.
- 8 Lyn Ossome, *Gender, Ethnicity and Violence in Kenya's Transitions to Democracy: States of Violence* (New York: Lexington, 2018), 38.
- 9 Marina E. Santoru, "The Colonial Idea of Women and Direct Intervention: The Mau Mau Case." *African Affairs* 95, no. 379 (1996): 253–267.
- 10 Ossome, *States of Violence*, 59.
- 11 The British colonial government issued Emergency Orders in October 1952. The orders gave the government martial law powers. The situation was declared to be an emergency because of the massive oath-taking ceremonies held by the Kikuyu, the spread of the Land and Freedom army (the Mau Mau) from the urban areas into the rural districts, and rise of violence against Loyalist Kikuyu. In Kiambu district, Senior Chief Waruhiu, a prominent pro-government spokesman, was assassinated. His murder was the event which precipitated the announcement of the state of emergency and the British declaration of war against the Land and Freedom army (see Cora Ann Presley, *Kikuyu Women, the Mau Mau Rebellion, and Social Change in Kenya* (Baltimore: Inprint Editions, Presley 2003), 127.
- 12 Santoru, "The Colonial Idea of Women," 258.
- 13 Ihuoma f. Abaraonye, "The Women's War of 1929 in South-Eastern Nigeria," in *Women and Revolution: Global Expressions*, ed. M.J. Diamond (Springer: Dordrecht, Abaraonye 1998), 109.
- 14 Ibid, 110.
- 15 U.E. Umoren, "The symbolism of the Nigerian Women's War of 1929: An Anthropological Study of an Anticolonial Struggle," *African Study Monographs* 16, no. 2(Umoren 1995): 66–7.
- 16 Ibid, 67.
- 17 See Bolanle Awe, "The Iyalode in the Traditional Yoruba Political System," in *Sexual Stratification: A Cross-Cultural View*, ed. A. Schlegel (New Haven: Yale University Press, Awe 1977); and Nina Mba, "Women in Southern Nigerian Political History 1900–1965 (University of Ibadan: Ibadan, Mba 1978).
- 18 Cheryl Johnson, "Grass Roots Organizing: Women in Anticolonial Activity in Southwestern Nigeria," *African Studies Review* 25, no. 2/3 (Johnson 1982): 138.
- 19 Ever since 1918 when taxes were instituted, women were required to pay income tax upon reaching the age of 15 and continued to do so when married, whereas men did not have to pay until the age of 17. Women thus provided as much as one-half of district revenues, yet had no direct representation on SNA councils (Johnson 1982: 150).
- 20 The SNA system constituted indirect rule in Abeokuta and invested the Alake with his powers of office. Its unpopularity stemmed from the powers though which it authorized the alake in the misappropriation of land and wrongful leasing to Europeans and their agents, and his overenthusiastic interpretation of the colonial government's orders regarding requisitioning of food. The AWU forced his abdication in 1948 (Johnson 1982: 150).
- 21 Johnson, "Grass Roots Organizing," 151.
- 22 Ibid.
- 23 Ossome, *States of Violence*, 62.
- 24 Ibid.
- 25 Ibid.
- 26 Ibid, 63.
- 27 Ibid, 70.
- 28 Ibid, 139–140.
- 29 Saba Khatak, "The NGOization of Women's Movements and its Implications for Feminist Organizing," 2014. <http://www.awid.org/Homepage/Forum/new-forum/Forum-08-s-Most-Popular->

- Breakout-Sessions2/The-NGOization-of-Women-s-Movements-and-its-Implications-for-Feminist-Organizing
- 30 Workshop statement, *Intimacy and Injury: in the wake of #Metoo in India and South Africa*, (Johannesburg 14–15 February 2019).
- 31 Ibid.
- 32 Nikita Dhawan, “Affirmative Sabotage of the Master’s Tools: The Paradox of Postcolonial Enlightenment,” in *Decolonizing Enlightenment: Transnational Justice, Human Rights and Democracy in a Postcolonial World*, ed. Nikita Dhawan (Frankfurt: Barbara Budrich Publishers, Dhawan 2014), 64.
- 33 Wendy Brown, *Walled States, Waning Sovereignty* (New York: Zone Books, Brown 2010), 24.
- 34 Lyn Ossome, “Democracy’s subjections: Human rights in contexts of scarcity,” in *Decolonizing Enlightenment: Transitional Justice, Human Rights and Democracy in a Postcolonial World*, ed. Nikita Dhawan (Frankfurt: Barbara Budrich Publishers, Ossome 2014), 286.
- 35 Wendy Brown, *States of Injury: Power and Freedom in Late Modernity* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, Brown 1995), cited in Ossome, “Democracy’s subjections,” 286.
- 36 Sam Moyo, Praveen Jha and Paris Yeros, “The Classical Agrarian Question: Myth, Reality and Relevance Today,” *Agrarian South: Journal of Political Economy* 2, no. 1 (Moyo et al. 2013): 97.
- 37 Sirisha Naidu and Lyn Ossome, “Social Reproduction and the Agrarian Question of Women’s Labour in India,” *Agrarian South: Journal of Political Economy* 5, no. 1 (Naidu and Ossome 2016).
- 38 Nancy Hartsock, *Money, Sex, and Power: Toward A Feminist Historical Materialism* (London: Longman, Hartsock 1983).
- 39 Ibid.

Bibliography

- Abaraonye, F. Ihuoma. “The Women’s War of 1929 in South-Eastern Nigeria.” In *Women and Revolution: Global Expressions*, edited by M.J. Diamond, 109–132. Springer: Dordrecht, 1998.
- Acholounu, O. Catherine. *Motherism: The Afrocentric Alternative to Feminism*. Abuja: Afa Publications, 1995.
- Awe, Bolanle. “The Iyalode in the Traditional Yoruba Political System.” In *Sexual Stratification: A Cross-Cultural View*, edited by A. Schlegel, 196–200. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1977.
- Brown, Wendy. *States of Injury: Power and Freedom in Late Modernity*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1995.
- Brown, Wendy. *Walled States, Waning Sovereignty*. New York: Zone Books, 2010.
- Dhawan, Nikita. “Affirmative Sabotage of the Master’s Tools: The Paradox of Postcolonial Enlightenment.” In *Decolonizing Enlightenment: Transnational Justice, Human Rights and Democracy in a Postcolonial World*, edited by N. Dhawan, 19–78. Frankfurt: Barbara Budrich Publishers, 2014.
- Hartsock, Nancy. *Money, Sex, and Power: Toward A Feminist Historical Materialism*. London: Longman, 1983.
- James, Joy. “The Womb of Western Theory: Trauma, Time Theft, and the Captive Maternal.” *Carceral Notebooks*, 2016. Available online at: http://www.thecarceral.org/cn12/14_Womb_of_Western_Theory.pdf (accessed on 20 November 2019).
- Johnson, Cheryl. “Grass Roots Organizing: Women in Anticolonial Activity in Southwestern Nigeria.” *African Studies Review* 25, no. 2/3 (1982): 137–157.
- Khatak, Saba. “The NGOization of Women’s Movements and Its Implications for Feminist Organizing,” 2014. www.awid.org/Homepage/Forum/new-forum/Forum-08-s-Most-Popular-Breakout-Sessions2/The-NGOization-of-Women-s-Movements-and-its-Implications-for-Feminist-Organizing.
- Lewis, Desiree. “African Feminisms.” *Agenda* 50, no. 1 (2001): 4–10.
- Mba, Nina. “Women in Southern Nigerian Political History 1900–1965.” Ph.D. Dissertation, University of Ibadan: Ibadan, 1978.
- Mikell, Gwendolyn. *African Feminism: The Politics of Survival in Sub-Saharan Africa*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1997.
- Moyo, Sam, Praveen Jha, and Paris Yeros. “The Classical Agrarian Question: Myth, Reality and Relevance Today.” *Agrarian South: Journal of Political Economy* 2, no. 1 (2013): 93–119.
- Naidu, Sirisha and Lyn Ossome. “Social Reproduction and the Agrarian Question of Women’s Labour in India.” *Agrarian South: Journal of Political Economy* 5, no. 1 (2016): 50–76.

- Ossome, Lyn. "Democracy's Subjections: Human Rights in Contexts of Scarcity." In *Decolonizing Enlightenment: Transitional Justice, Human Rights and Democracy in a Postcolonial World*, edited by N. Dhawan, 279–294. Frankfurt: Barbara Budrich Publishers, 2014.
- Ossome, Lyn. *Gender, Ethnicity and Violence in Kenya's Transitions to Democracy: States of Violence*. New York: Lexington, 2018.
- Presley, Cora Ann. *Kikuyu Women, the Mau Mau Rebellion, and Social Change in Kenya*. Baltimore: Inprint Editions, 2003.
- Santoru, E. Marina. "The Colonial Idea of Women and Direct Intervention: The Mau Mau Case." *African Affairs* 95, no. 379 (1996): 253–267.
- Umoren, U.E. "The Symbolism of the Nigerian Women's War of 1929: An Anthropological Study of an Anticolonial Struggle." *African Study Monographs* 16, no. 2 (1995): 61–72.
- Workshop statement. *Intimacy and Injury: in the wake of #Metoo in India and South Africa*, Johannesburg 14–15 February 2019. Available online at: <https://governingintimacies.wordpress.com/2019/04/04/metoo-workshop/> (accessed on 18 November 2019).

LGBTQI+ People in Africa

Surya Monro, Zethu Matebeni, and Vasu Reddy

As Africans, we stand for the celebration of our complexities and we are committed to ways of being which allow for self-determination at all levels of our sexual, social, political, and economic lives...We are specifically committed to the transformation of the politics of sexuality in our contexts. As long as African LGBTI people are oppressed, the whole of Africa is oppressed.

(African LGBTI declaration, 18 April 2010, Nairobi, Kenya, Tamale 2011, 182)

Sexuality in Africa is a multifaceted domain, deeply material (visceral, embodied, and politicised) and, like gender, informed by interlocking political, social, class, religious, cultural, and economic interests. “Sexual politics” undergirds the circuits of power informing the shape, architecture and patterns of African lives because the gendered hierarchy is sexualised by powerful men and states, anchored in patriarchy, and in turn circumscribed by hetero-polar regimes of gender that make sex dangerous for sexual minorities. Therefore to be other than heterosexual in Africa is to be in effect constrained and regulated by the “heterosexual matrix” (Butler 1999), “the straight mind” (Wittig 1992) and the “compulsory heterosexuality” (Rich 1980) that informs the hegemonic order of heterosexuality. Sex and gender variance in Africa is similarly constricted by compulsory gender binarism, patriarchy, and heterosexism.

This chapter addresses LGBTQI+ experiences in Africa as a contribution to Pan African Studies. African countries vary very considerably in the ways that gender and sexuality are constructed, with postcolonial and neo-colonial relations, anti-racist struggles, local subjectivities, traditionalist patriarchies, and nationalist homophobias intertwining with human rights frameworks and activist interventions (Zabus 2013, Thoresen 2014, Mwangi 2017). Within these countries, lived and embodied experiences of genders and sexualities are highly diverse, whilst cross-cutting themes are apparent concerning the formation and operation of power structures (Tamale 2011). The chapter focuses on the African continent, whilst acknowledging the importance of scholarship about LGBTQI+ identities in the African diaspora (see for example Asanti 2010).

The chapter begins with an overview of the literature, then provides a snapshot of key historical issues. The issue of LGBTQI+ categories is discussed and other approaches,

including those rooted in spiritual heritages, are discussed. The chapter then addresses the many ways in which LGBTQI+ Africans are subjected and persecuted, with a specific small section on intersex, as intersex people are often overlooked in discussions about LGBTQI+ in African contexts. Lastly, we discuss human rights frameworks and activism about LGBTQI+ issues in Africa.

Overview of the literature

There is a developing and vibrant body of scholarly and popular interest in critical approaches to African genders and sexualities (Arnfred 2005, Gunkel 2010, Epprecht et al. 2019, Nkabinde and Morgan 2006, Nyanzi 2013a, b, 2014, Nyeck and Epprecht 2013, Murray and Roscoe 1998, Rodriguez 2019, Spronk 2012, Tamale 2007, 2011). This includes LGBTQI studies (Cammaing 2019, Ekine and Abbas 2013, Epprecht 2004, 2013a, Gross 2011, Kaggwa 2011, Hayes 2000, Hoad 2007, Schäfer and Range 2014, Tamale 2007) that direct attention to Africa (see also Kaoma 2009). Some of the most interesting contributions to the study of African sexual and gender variances historically have been restricted to particular disciplines (notably anthropology, e.g. Murray and Roscoe 1998), or countries (South Africa, with its specific history of colonialism, apartheid, and post-1994 reconstruction). The African literature on LGBTQI+ issues has in fact been dominated by Southern African studies (Epprecht 2004, Morgan and Wieringa 2005, Stobie 2007, Reddy et al. 2009, Steyn and Van Zyl 2009, Mkhize et al. 2010, Munro 2012, Swarr 2012, Lorway 2014, Matebeni 2014, Francis 2017, Msibi 2018, Camminga 2019). Interest in African scholarship more broadly is signalled by the publication of recent collections including Tamale (2011), Currier (2012), Ekine and Abbas (2013) Nyeck and Epprecht (2013), Matebeni (2014), Matebeni et al. (2018) and a monograph (Epprecht 2013a).

Less literature exists about lesbians in Africa than about gay men; exceptions include Lewis (2016), Currier and Migrane-George (2017) and Matebeni (2012). Scholarship about other marginalised identities is also developing, notably bisexuality (Stobie 2007, 2011, Lynch and Maree 2013, Khuzwayo and Morison 2017) and intersex (Gross 2011, Kaggwa 2011). Each different grouping within the LGBTQI+ umbrella faces different challenges, although patriarchy, gender binarism, and heteronormativity profoundly structure the lives of these and others in African (and other) contexts. For instance, Lynch and Maree (2013) recount the ways in which bisexual women are highly affected by discourses about heterosexual marriage, and discusses the importance of including bisexuality when examining the operation of heterosexism as a political force. Across the LGBTQI+ umbrella, sexism shapes people's experiences. For example Corey-Boulet (2017) provides testimony from queer women living in West and Central Africa about the many negative effects that sexism has on their life-possibilities; these women face "multiple layers of discrimination."

The history of sexual and gender diversities in Africa

A substantial literature exists documenting the history of same-sex sexual practices and gender diversities (Murray and Roscoe 1998, Epprecht 2006, 2013a). Zabus (2013) found names for same-sex desire in 50 African pre-colonial societies. Same-sex relations have been present since ancient times as a natural part of the social fabric in some African societies (see for example Nkabinde and Morgan 2006). Same-sex sexualities and gender diversities exist across the continent (Currier and Migrane-George, 2017, Hawley 2017). For instance, in Gambia, several local terms for sexual/gender diversity are in place. For example, the term

ibis denotes men who tend to adopt a feminine presentation and the term *yoos* is used for men who take the insertive role in sex and who do not identify as homosexual. Sexual relationships exist between women but in secret, although historically lesbianism has been associated with families who have powerful women ((Nyanzi 2013b).

Historically, sexual diversities in Africa have been inaccurately represented, for example Epprecht (2006) argues that historically, anthropologists minimised, exoticised, or suppressed evidence of African people engaging in both same-sex and opposite-sex sexual practices. Authors such as Lewis (2011) and Epprecht (2013b) trace the construction of ideas of African sexualities, using postcolonial critiques of the stigmatising ways in which sexual and gender diversities were misrepresented during colonial times, and discuss the widely-documented imposition of colonial homophobias, racism, and other prejudices, which became entrenched via legal and other institutions. Notions of sexuality and gender were manipulated by colonialists to serve their interests in relation to gender regimes, as well as those of race and sexuality, with continued negative effects. It is worth pointing out that there are differences across countries in the ways that colonialism was exercised and impacted on sexuality and gender discourses; these differences can be traced back to the trans-Saharan slave trade (Gaudio 2014) and Roman colonialism (Haskins 2014), and then to European colonial rule, and they are mapped out unevenly in relation to Islam and Christianity (Gaudio 2014). Another important issue is that some traditional forms of same-sex gender relations may serve to uphold social norms, for example: "...unlike other societies, women to women marriages in Igbo land [Nigeria] were not contracted in response to the sexual emotions or attractions of the couples, but simply an instrument for the preservation and extension of patriarchy and its traditions" (Nwoko 2012, 69).

Understanding LGBTQI+ categories in Africa

The terms lesbian, gay, bisexual, transgender, queer, and intersex plus (LGBTQI+) are western-originated. We use these terms here, but recognise that for some authors and activists, they are associated with neo-colonising and other problematic practices that further contribute to their invisibility and stigmatisation. For example, Seckinelgin (2009) argues that "internationally recognized categories of LGBTI and men who have sex with men (MSM) for the local voices of activists in India and sub-Saharan Africa...can silence difference as well as articulate it." Zabus (2013) explains that exclusive homosexuality would not have been (and is still not) practical for many Africans, because of the way that inequalities prevail, and the manner in which wealth is distributed through [heterosexual] marriage, and also that notions of sexual orientation can be problematic because active/passive sexual roles can be more important than the gender of a partner. Other terms such as MSM and sexual orientation and gender identity expression (SOGIE) groups could also be used. It should be noted that, in African contexts, intersex is often uncritically included alongside and often subsumed within the LGBT nomenclature. In some African languages, there is slippage between "intersex" and non-heterosexual, for example, Hames (2018) explains that the word "stabanane" describes an intersex person in isiZulu vernacular but in isiXhosa it is a derogatory term to describe a lesbian or gay person.

The term "queer" is used by some non-heterosexuals and gender diverse people in Africa (see for example Matebeni et al. 2018). Whilst the idea of "queer" can be used to destabilise rigid sex/gender categorisations, debates about the meaning and utility of the term also exist. As Matebeni (2014) points out, the term "queer" can hide diversities between groups of people. The idea of "queer" has been criticised by some other African scholars, who see it as

a neo-imperial concept (see Nyanzi 2014) whilst other African scholars have embraced and worked with it (Matebeni 2014, Nyanzi 2014). Other non-heterosexual and/or non-gender binaried identities are common at local and country-specific levels in Africa (see for example Tamale 2007). These may conflict with “LGBTQI+” categories, and there is a tendency for terms such as “LGBTQ” to overlook the diverse concerns of some groups such as bisexuals and transgender people (see Matebeni 2014). However, local non-heterosexual and/or gender-variant identities exist, these can themselves be contested and under debate.

Ontologies and sex/gender diversities in Africa

It is important to avoid imposing Western-originated ontologies onto African contexts. Dominant Western ontologies rest either on hard science, and/or on Abrahamic religions. Whilst Christianity and Islam are the dominant religions in African countries, there are wide divergences in the actual belief systems that underpin social relations. Authors such as Izugbara describe the importance of spirituality and the supernatural in African contexts; practice and belief in these can sit alongside adherence to the religions of Christianity and Islam. “Beliefs about the paranormal are ... regularly invoked for a diversity of purposes in Africa [sic]. They not only drive a diversity of political systems, economic practices and array of sexual behaviours, but also have serious implications for development and other activities on the continent” (2011, 534–35). Pan-African understandings of sexual and gender diversity can be enriched by attention to spirituality, in its wide range of manifestations across the continent and in the diaspora (Amadiume 2015, Conner 2013, Murray and Roscoe 1998, Otero and Falofa 2013, Stobie 2014). For example, Olaoluwa (2018) foregrounds everyday and periodic rites of passage among the Ogu-speaking people of Southwestern Nigeria. He contends that the rites are mediated by human communicative interactions that blur, and in some cases, reverse, sexual roles while sometimes investing humanity with gender neutrality and hermaphroditic orientations, regardless of more popular affirmations to the contrary on the African continent.

The incorporation of a spiritual element in the modelling of sex, gender, and sexuality challenges discreet notions of male and female. For example, some African deities are ungendered, or have more than one gender or sexuality, or are intersexed, or homosexual, whilst others have human or non-human sexual partners and subvert gender lines (see Izugbara 2011). For instance, “Although popularly imagined as female, [the popular deity] Mami Wata does not really have a familiar sexual orientation; rather, she claims human spouses indiscriminately, regardless of their gender” (Izugbara 2011, 543). There are of course great variations in the ways that sex and gender are conceptualised across and within different African countries; this extends to the spiritual realm. Contemporary sangomas (traditional healers as they are known in South Africa) can also be non-heterosexual and/or gender diverse (Izugbara 2011). This is linked to ancestral, pre-colonial practices by authors such as Nkabinde and Morgan (2006), who document the traditional, institutionalised ways in which African female sangomas in South Africa engage in same-sex relations. Nkabinde (2008) also describes the way in which many South African sangomas have same-sex relationships and rationalise these as being directed by their ancestors. However, evidence also shows that historically, lesbianism was linked with a malevolent witchcraft in some African societies (for example the Zande, see Evans-Pritchard 1937, 1970 in Izugbara 2011). Also, as indicated further on, people expressing same-sex love can be persecuted because of spiritual beliefs in contemporary African societies. The terrain of spiritual non-heterosexualities and gender diversities is therefore a contested one overall.

Persecution

In their countries of origin, LGBTQI+ people are exposed and subjected to discrimination, persecution, exclusion and violence, murder, and rape at the hands of state and non-state agents. Same-sex intimate activities are criminalised in 38 of 54 countries in Africa. Gender-diverse people also face discrimination and persecution (for example Vilane (2018) reports on the difficulties facing trans people in Swaziland and Camminga (2019) on the status of transgender refugees in South Africa). Discrimination against LGBTQI+ persons is endemic in most African countries. The bias against LGBTQI+ persons is often supported by discriminatory legislation for example in Nigeria and Uganda (Rudman 2015, 241). Penalties for same-sex and gender-diverse related activities and associations range from fines to death (see PASSOP/Leitner Centre/Open Society Foundation for South Africa Mkhize et al. 2010, 2013). In many African countries, criminal charges are laid on people simply for expressing their sexuality or gender identity. The material realities confirm that in African contexts the restraining power exerted over LGBTQI people is revealed both by criminalisation and vocal public denigration (especially naming and shaming). In this sense, LGBTQI+ people continue to be represented as abject figures over which governments and cultural institutions exert a great degree of control.

Active hostility towards gender-diverse and non-heterosexual people in Africa is still pervasive, and deliberate, sustained stigmatising and prejudiced expressions are evident realities for the majority of African LGBTQI+ people. There is systematic anti-gay sentiment: for example, a study conducted by the Centre for Development of People revealed that 34% of gay Malawian men were denied basic social services like healthcare and 8% had been beaten by police or other officials because of their sexual orientation (see also PASSOP 2012; Other Foundation & HSRC, 2016). In some African countries, even where homosexuality is not illegal per se, "... community attitudes and the church's stance have led to many LGBTQ people being arrested by the police. Some of those interviewed were harassed and others arrested because of their gender identity or sexual orientation in their home country" (PASSOP 2012, 11). As Ekine reports:

The moral panic against homosexuality across the continent is systemic and indicative of an instrumentalised, well-organised campaign which exposes the cosy relationship between religious and cultural fundamentalisms asserted through vigorous nationalist political agendas. Nigeria, Uganda, and, to a lesser extent, Malawi have been at the centre of this anti-queer movement, repeatedly driving state homophobia through recurring legislations.

(Ekine 2013, 78–79)

It is not possible to properly describe the different forms of persecution across the different African countries in this short piece. One example comes from the Gambia, where homosexuality has been denounced at the highest political levels, including a threat to behead homosexuals by President Jammeh in 2008. Homosexuality is presented as haram [taboo] in this Islamic country, and religious reasons are given for discrimination against those who engage in same-sex sexualities and/or are gender diverse. The existence of homosexuality is often denied, and/or it is discursively linked with foreigners and the West (Nyanzi 2013b). Another example comes from South Africa, where so-called "corrective rape" of lesbians continues (see also Mkhize et al. 2010); and according to Mwambene and Wheal (2015) this practice is linked to the perceived threat that these women pose to patriarchy and heteronormativity, where women's bodies are demarcated as men's property. Bisexual women as well

as lesbians are at risk of violence (Lynch and Maree 2013). Other examples of persecution of LGBTQI+ people across Africa are reported in various sources such as the People Against Suffering, Oppression and Poverty (PASSOP report) (2012). For example:

There was nowhere to go because in Congo if you go to the police you could be arrested or stoned. The police are not trained about it [homosexuality]. Being gay is taboo in Congo.

(Gay asylum seeker, Congo)

PASSOP (2012, 10) reviews journalistic coverage of increasing homophobia in many African countries, including beatings, death threats, assassinations, and rape. Other key issues are rejection by family and friends, forced marriage or subjection to unwanted ritualistic procedures. Indicative quotes from this report reveal these realities:

My partner was killed and his house was burned. We lived together in the same house. If I had been there that day, there is no doubt I would have been killed also.

(Gay asylum seeker, Uganda)

My mother and my sisters took me to church for exorcism because they assumed that I was a man possessed by supposed evil supernatural force that led me to debauchery...

(Gay asylum seeker, Democratic Republic of Congo)

Persecution is spread unevenly across people with varied sexual and gender identities, and can take place between different groups subsumed under the “LGBTQI+” umbrella. For instance, discrimination by gays against transgender people sometimes occurs (Mbugua 2013). Violence against LGBTQI+ people does not only take place by heterosexuals; for example Sandfort et al. (2015) document forced sex between women in Southern Africa. Despite multiple hardships, LGBTQI+ people in African countries exercise agency in a variety of ways. For instance, ORAM (2013) documents the importance of social networks and access to information for LGBTQI+/sexually and gender non-conforming (SGN) refugees. There are many places in Africa (including Tanzania, Kenya, and Nigeria) where homosexuals, bisexuals, transgender people are at a high risk of death and therefore have no option but to flee often to South Africa. Camminga (2017) reports specific challenges faced by transgender refugees in the South African asylum system.

To understand LGBTQI+ issues in Africa, it is necessary to address the “intersecting causes of political persecution that are unique to individuals and communities in the region, including gender, class, religion, ethnicity and sexuality” (Devji 2016, 353). Currier (2019) analyses the way that “politicized homophobia is a strategy used by African political elites interested in consolidating their moral and political authority” (2017, 1). Homophobia is used to discredit or silence critics and divide social movements, affecting not only LGBTI rights movements but also others such as women’s movements and movements supporting the rights of those with HIV and AIDS. Another key issue is that homosexuality, bisexuality, pansexuality, transgender, and other non-normative sexed and/or gendered identities are still essentialised in terms of culture. That is to say, LGBTQI+, in its perceived “unAfricanness,” still signifies excess and promiscuity to many African people (see Nyanzi 2013a). LGBTQI+ lives are viewed by African homophobes, biphobes and transphobes as *acts* and *behaviours* that should not be accorded status as identities with citizenship rights. However, pleasure,

celebration, affirmation, and the positive expression of erotic desire prevail despite ongoing pathologisation, marginalisation, and persecution.

Intersex

Intersex people (who are born with atypical chromosomal, gonadal and/or anatomical characteristics) face particular challenges on the African continent. This includes homicide due to prejudice against intersexuality, for example British intersex activist Hayes-Light documented the homicide of a 17 year old Kenyan intersex person, Muhadh Ishmael, by his hostile family (Monro personal communication 3.04.2017). It also includes widespread infanticide of intersex infants in countries including Kenya and South Africa. For example Behrens (2018) documents the routine murder of intersex infants by birth attendants in South Africa. Intersex activist Sally Gross further demonstrated the levels of xenophobia against intersex people in some quarters (Muthien 2013).

Julius Kaggwa (2016), Executive Director of the Support Initiative for People with atypical sex Development (SIPD Uganda) directs attention to and highlights a violent feature unique to the African experience of intersex experiences that responds to a perceived spoiled identity under a medical gaze (heightened by cultural prejudice, secrecy, and shrouds of silence). Any attempt at “coming out” that could result in an intersex pride is negated and withdrawn, resulting in further invisibility and sustained heteronormality among the intersexed population. Whilst issues of survivability are pertinent for many Africans who are non-normative in terms of gender and sexuality, they are critically important for intersex people in some countries:

In Uganda, the traditional way of dealing with perceived sex development differences, often perceived as “abnormalities”, has largely been staying silent – and wishing them away through various kinds of traditional rituals, which often meant killing the intersex infants in question. This was, for decades, considered to be both the best and normal way to handle intersex births. Normally, just being a girl or a boy in Uganda and the East African region generally – without any sex development differences – comes with more than enough cultural, religious, and political expectations, demands, impositions, and prejudices. Prejudices that form most of the gender inequities and human rights issues we still battle with. The indeterminate state of sex that defines intersex people therefore creates even more complex cultural and religious prejudices. The initial treatment of an intersex birth in Uganda will often be silence and secrecy. The family will isolate the child from the general public. In most cases, the mothers of such children will be frowned upon. Usually, superstitions loom large as their families consult witchdoctors, mediums and traditional healers for a solution. In many instances, the mother will work with either a traditional medicine practitioner or some other ally to kill the child.

In trying to fix the appearance of children’s genitals, grave mutilations have occurred, which have left these children scarred and dysfunctional for life – for most with no chance of ever getting these errors corrected. This is because there is overwhelming pressure at all levels (family, community, spiritual, cultural, and political) to have a child with a body that conforms to the normative “male” or “female” body. A pressure so overwhelming that parents will often kill their intersex babies or surrender them to harmful mutilations.

The approach that is used by the “elite” is a concealment approach where an intersex child will be hidden and “offered” up for surgery without warranting them, and without proper surgical or psychosocial support facilities.

There is a specific issue for intersex people about medically unnecessary interventions, which are widely criticised by activists internationally. Surgeons in West Africa revised Western treatment norms to account for the limited medical facilities available; whilst they still operated due to a perceived need to impose male genital norms on children with hypospadias, in practice these are less serious and damaging interventions than those carried out in the West. Behrens (2018) argues that some level of surgical intervention may help to avoid the infanticide of intersex infants in Southern African contexts. However, the pressing issues of infanticide, homicide, bigotry, and damaging non-essential medical interventions remain.

Human rights and policy interventions to protect LGBTQI+ people

At an international level, a number of the key legal instruments and human rights frameworks are in place to protect African LGBTQI+ including the 2007 Yogyakarta Principles and the recent Yogyakarta Principles +10. Other recent developments include Human Rights Council Resolution 17/19 on Human Rights, Sexual Orientation, and Gender Identity (adopted June 2011) that expresses grave concern about violence and discrimination against people because of their gender identity and sexual orientation, and the Human Rights Council Resolution 32/2 Protection against violence and discrimination based on sexual orientation and gender identity (adopted June 2016). These international instruments place obligations on individual states to protect people against homophobic and transphobic violence and torture, cruel, inhuman, and degrading treatment. There is also human rights provision at a regional level across Africa. For example, the African Charter on Human and People's Rights (adopted June 1981) stipulates rights to non-discrimination, equality before the law, life, and integrity of the person, dignity and freedom from torture or other cruel, inhuman or degrading treatment or punishment. "Sexual orientation" and "gender identity" are not explicitly criteria for distinction, but the rights stipulated are specified as belonging to "every individual" (Rights in Exile 2016). Taken together, these directives and instruments constitute a substantial human rights framework that should protect LGBTQI+ people. LGBTQI+ African people's rights could also be supported by the African Commission; Jonas (2013) contends that it has a crucial role to play in protecting rights, appealing for decriminalisation of homosexuality in those countries which still criminalise it, and conducting research in this area.

At the level of individual states, post-apartheid South Africa has taken an internationally pioneering role in supporting LGBTQI+ rights. It was the first country in the world to constitutionally guarantee non-discrimination on the grounds of sexual orientation in 1996 (Gunkel 2010). South Africa has subsequently played a leading role in LGBTQI+ rights agendas on an international and domestic level. There are a number of domestic laws underpinning rights regarding sexual orientation, including the Employment Equity Act (1998), the Promotion of Equality and Prevention of Unfair Discrimination Act (2000), the Prohibition of Incitement to Hatred based on Sexual Orientation (2000), and the Civil Union Act (2006). Whilst post-apartheid South Africa has progressive human rights frameworks, difficulties with implementation of human rights in this area have been noted.

Activism

As Ndashe (2013) explains, different African countries are at various stages in terms of activism about LGBTQI+ issues. Whilst homophobia (and transphobia, biphobia, and intersexphobia) are still strong, various activists, stakeholders, and organisations are prepared to challenge these forms of prejudice. Whilst these might tend to be either pan-LGBTQI+ or gay male-dominated, there are some that are specific to strands within the LGBTQI+ umbrella. For example, intersex activist Kaggwa (2016 n.p.) writes about efforts to mobilise, unsettle paradigms and ensure change: “My own outreach to religious leaders promises that if we are relentless in our educational work, to change hearts and minds, we will make incremental and lasting attitudinal changes concerning differences in sexual development.”

Very broadly speaking, there are some recent developments in African countries that support sexual and gender diversity. The impact of pan-African, international, and country-specific activist movements (see earlier) should not be underestimated. A large number of initiatives have also taken place under the umbrella of public health initiatives and/or the need to fulfil international treaty obligations (Epprecht 2013a). Internationally-fuelled interventions can be problematic, for example the way that foreign aid is tied to agendas to tackle homophobia is criticised by activists who state that African LGBTQI+ movements cannot operate effectively when this type of foreign interference – that takes no account of the legacy of colonialism – is happening (Anon 2013, 92). However, at a continental level, there are also changes afoot. For example, the Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) and the development Agenda 2063 (begun in 2013 by the African Union) provides a new development pathway for Africa, with “important opportunities for linking continental LGBTI advocacy to the sustainable development enterprise” (Poku et al. 2017).

Activism to support non-heterosexuals and gender diversity is found amongst some African Christian movements. For example, the House of Rainbow church in Lagos proudly welcomes LGBT people (Izugbara 2011). “Muslim community leaders from several African countries including Sudan, South Africa, Kenya, and Senegal have recently begun to defy official Islamic homophobia, leading to movements in Islam that now accept and consider homosexuality as normal and natural” (Izugbara 2011, 552). Likewise Epprecht (2013) documents the emergence of South African black religious leaders who are opposing the way in which archbishops from across Africa joined forces with conservative American religious leaders to condemn homosexuality. Izugbara (2011) argues, therefore, that faith and religion have a role in promoting sexual well-being and respect in African contexts.

There are a range of other key developments. African scholarship about gender and sexual diversity appears to have had some impact in broadening minds about the issues and in supporting activism (see Epprecht et al. 2019). An important flowering of cultural forms is taking place, including art (see for example Matebeni 2014, Lewis 2016), and literature (see Stobie 2007, 2011, Sheik 2015). Sports has also, to an extent, been a vehicle for change in the area of intersex rights following the mistreatment of athlete Caster Semenya (Cooky and Dworkin 2013). Legal change has resulted from activist endeavours, notably in South Africa (Reddy et al. 2009) including not only LGBTQI+ rights but also intersex rights (Dworkin et al. 2013). The movement towards more rights and inclusion for people with non-heterosexual sexualities and non-normative genders is linked with cultural changes in some places. For example McAllister (2013) argues that the “tswanaisation” of gay culture that is taking place in Botswana is a useful activist strategy in tackling the dangers of framing same-sex sexualities as “unAfrican,” and that similar strategies may be useful in other African countries. Another key issue is the overlaps in the agendas, strategies, and tactics used by

African feminists and those advocating for LGBTQI+ rights. For example Okech (2013) analyses the ways in which African feminist spaces are amenable to queer organising – feminism and queer politics both challenge normative ideas of heterosexuality, but there are reports of homophobia amongst some African feminist groups, and African feminisms also face a range of challenges.

Concluding notes

This chapter has provided an overview of the origins and current manifestations of LGBTQI+ and other non-normative sex and gender diversities in Africa. It has reviewed the literature, and has provided some analysis of the reasons for the ongoing persecution of LGBTQI+ people on the continent. Same-sex sexualities and gender diversities have been shown to be historically present in African countries, dating back to pre-colonial times, and can be claimed as a feature of Pan-African identities and studies. Prejudice against LGBTQI+ people appears to have varied roots; it is primarily a colonial import but more recently is fostered by the strategic formation and manipulation of nationalist discourses by homophobic state leaders, as well as fundamentalist religious perspectives. Prejudice located in both Christianity and Islam are restrictive factors, although progressive Islamic and Christian movements concerning LGBTQI+ people are also emerging. African LGBTQI+ people are shown to be agentic actors in a wide variety of ways, including political activism to support LGBTQI+ rights and the creation of a wide range of cultural resources that celebrate African sexual and gender diversities.

Acknowledgements

This chapter draws on materials from the Introduction and Chapter 8 of the edited collection *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI identities, citizenship, and activism*. London and New York: Routledge. The authors would like to acknowledge and thank those who contributed to the Collection.

References

- Amadiume, I. 2015. *Male Daughters, Female Husbands: gender & Sexuality in an African Society*. London: Zed Books.
- Anon. 2013. "African Statement to British Government on Aid Conditionality." In *Queer African Reader*, edited by S Ekine and H Abbas, 92–94. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford.
- Arnfred, S., edited by 2005. *Rethinking Sexualities in Africa*. Sweden: Nordiska Afrikainstitutet.
- Asanti, IT. 2010. "Living with Dual Spirits: spirituality, Sexuality and Healing in the African Diaspora." *Journal of Bisexuality* 10: 22–30.
- Behrens, K.G. 2018. "A Principles Ethical Approach to Intersex Paediatric Surgeries in South Africa." Paper presented at the *Intersex Social Sciences: Activism, Human Rights, and Citizenship conference*. University of Bologna, 4–5 June 2018.
- Butler, J. 1999. *Gender Trouble: feminism and the Subversion of Identity*. New York and London: Routledge.
- Camminga, B. 2017. "Categories and Queues: the Structural Realities of Gender and the South African Asylum System." *TSQ: Transgender Studies Quarterly* 4(1): 61–77.
- Camminga, B. 2019. *Transgender Refugees and the Imagined South Africa: bodies over Borders and Borders over Bodies*. Cham, Switzerland: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Conner, RD. 2013. *Queering Creole Spiritual Traditions: lesbiam, Gay, Bisexual, and Transgender Participation in African-Inspired Traditions in the Americas*. New York and London: Routledge.
- Cooley, C. and SL Dworkin. 2013. "Policing the Boundaries of Sex: A Critical Examination of Gender Verification and the Caster Semenya Controversy." *Journal of Sex Research* 50(2): 103–111.

- Corey-Boulet, R. 2017. "Emboldened by Outsiders, Restricted at Home: how Sexism Holds Back Queer Women in West and Central Africa." *World Policy Journal* 34(1): 75–80.
- Currier, A. 2012. *Out in Africa: LGBT Organizing in Namibia and South Africa*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Currier, A. 2019. *Politicizing Sex in Contemporary Africa: homophobia in Malawi*. New York: Cambridge University Press.
- Currier, A and T Migraine-George. 2017. "Lesbian"/female Same-sex Sexualities in Africa." *Journal of Lesbian Studies* 21(2): 133–150.
- Devji, ZZ. 2016. "Forging Paths for the African Queer: is There an "African" Mechanism for Realizing LGBTIQ Rights?" *Journal of African Law* 60(3): 343–363.
- Dworkin, SL, A Lock Swarr, and C Cooky. 2013. "The (Mis)treatment of South African Track Star Caster Semenya." In *Sexual Diversity in Africa: politics, Theory, Citizenship*, edited by M Epprecht, 129–148. Kingston: McGill-Queen's University Press.
- Ekine, S. 2013. "Contesting Narratives of Queer Africa." In *Queer African Reader*, edited by S Ekine and H Abbas, 78–91. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Ekine, S and H Abbas. 2013. *Queer African Reader*. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Epprecht, M. 2004. *Hungochani: the History of a Dissident Sexuality in Southern Africa*. Montréal, Canada: McGill-Queen's University Press.
- Epprecht, M. 2006. "Bisexuality" and the Politics of Normal in African Ethnography." *Anthropologica* 48(2): 187–201.
- Epprecht, M. 2013a. *Sexuality and Social Justice in Africa: rethinking Homophobia and Forging Resistance*. London and New York: Zed Books.
- Epprecht, M. 2013b. "The Making of 'African Sexuality': early Sources, Current Debates." In *Sexual Diversity in Africa: politics, Theory, Citizenship*, edited by M Epprecht, 54–66. Kingston: McGill-Queen's University Press.
- Epprecht, M, S.O. Murray, K. Andam, F. Miguel, A.C. Mbaye, and R.P. Gaudio. 2019. "Boy Wives, Female Husbands Twenty Years On: reflections on Scholarly Activism and the Struggle for Sexual Orientation and Gender Identity/expression Rights in Africa." *Canadian Journal of African Studies/Revue Canadienne Des Études Africaines* <https://doi.org/10.1080/00083968.2018.1546604>.
- Francis, D.A. 2017. *Troubling the Teaching and Learning of Gender and Sexuality Diversity in South African Education*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Gaudio, R.P. 2014. "Trans-saharan Trade: the Routes of 'African Sexuality'." *Journal of African History* 55: 317–330.
- Gross, S. 2011. "The Chronicle of an Intersexed Activist's Journey." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 231–234. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Gunkel, H. 2010. *The Cultural Politics of Female Sexuality in Africa*. New York: Routledge.
- Hames, M. 2018. "Lesbian Students in the Academy: invisible, Assimilated, or Ignored?" In *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism*, edited by Z. Matebeni, S. Monro, and V. Reddy, 136–157. London and New York: Routledge.
- Haskins, S. 2014. "The Influence of Roman Laws regarding Same-Sex Actos on Homophobia in Africa." *The African Human Rights Journal* 14: 393–411.
- Hawley, J.C. 2017. "In Transition: self-expression in Recent African LGBTIQ Narratives." *Journal of the African Literature Association* 11(1): 120–134.
- Hayes, J. 2000. *Queer Nations: marginal Sexualities in the Maghreb*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Hoad, N. 2007. *African Intimacies: race, Homosexuality and Globalization*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Izugbara, C.O. 2011. "Sexuality and the Supernatural in Africa." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S Tamale, 533–558. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Jonas, O. 2013. "The Quest for Homosexual Freedom in Africa: A Survey of Selected Continental Practices and Experiences." *International Journal of Discrimination and the Law* 12(4): 221–242.
- Kaggwa, J. 2011. "Intersex: the Forgotten Constituency." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 235–237. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Kaggwa, J. 2016. "Understanding Intersex Stigma in Uganda." Accessed <http://intersexday.org/en/understanding-stigma-uganda/>
- Kaoma, K. 2009. *Globalizing the Culture Wars: American Conservatives, African Churches and Homophobia*. Somerville: Political Research Associates.

- Khuzwayo, Z. and T. Morison. 2017. "Resisting Erasure: bisexual Female Identity in South Africa." *South African Review of Sociology* 48(4): 19–37.
- Koko, G., S. Monro, and K. Smith. 2018. "Lesbian, Gay, Bisexual, Transgender, Queer (LGBTQ) Forced Migrants and Asylum Seekers: multiple Discriminations." In *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism*, edited by Z. Matebeni, S. Monro, and V. Reddy, 158–177. London and New York: Routledge.
- Lewis, D. 2011. "Representing African Sexualities." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 199–216. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Lewis, R.A. 2016. "Queering Vulnerability: visualizing Black Lesbian Desire in Post-Apartheid South Africa." *Feminist Formations* 28(1): 205–232.
- Lorway, R. 2014. *Namibia's Rainbow Project: gay Rights in an African Nation*. Bloomington: Indiana University Press.
- Lynch, I. and D.J.F. Maree. 2013. "Negotiating Heteronormativity: exploring South African Bisexual Women's Constructions of Marriage and Family." *Feminism & Psychology* 23(4): 459–477.
- Matebeni, Z. 2012. *Black Lesbian Sexualities and Identity in South Africa: an Ethnography of Black Lesbian Urban Life*. Germany: LAP LAMBERT Academic Publishing.
- Matebeni, Z., ed. 2014. *Reclaiming Afrikan: queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities*. Athlone: Modjaji Books.
- Matebeni, Z., S. Monro, and V. Reddy. 2018. "Introduction." In *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism*, edited by Z. Matebeni, S. Monro, and V. Reddy, 1–16. London and New York: Routledge.
- Mbugua, A. 2013. "Transsexuals' Nightmare: activism or Subjugation?" In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 123–140. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- McAllister, J. 2013. "Tswanaerising Global Gayness: the "Unafrikan" Argument, Western Gay Media Imagery, Local Responses and Gay Culture in Botswana." *Culture, Health and Sexuality* 15(S1): S88–S101. <http://dx.doi.org/10.1080/13691058.2012.742929>.
- Mkhize, N., J. Bennett, V. Reddy, and R. Moletsane. 2010. *The Country We Want to Live In: hate Crimes and Homophobia in the Lives of Black South Africans*. Cape Town: HSRC Press.
- Monro, S. 2015. *Bisexuality: identities, Politics and Theories*. London and New York: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Morgan, R. and S. Wieringa. 2005. *Tommy Boys, Lesbian Men and Ancestral Wives: female Same-sex Practices in Africa*. Johannesburg: Jacana.
- Msibi, T. 2018. *Hidden Sexualities of South African Teachers: black Male Educators and Same-Sex Desire*. Oxon and New York: Routledge.
- Munro, B.M. 2012. *South Africa and the Dream of Love to Come: queer Sexuality and the Struggle for Freedom*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Murray, S. and W. Roscoe, eds. 1998. *Boy-Wives and Female Husbands: studies of African Homosexualities*. New York: St. Martin's Press.
- Muthien, B. 2013. "Queering Borders; An Afrikan Activist Perspective." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 211–219. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Mwambene, L. and M. Wheal. 2015. "Realisation or Oversight of a Constitutional Mandate? Corrective Rape of Black African Lesbians in South Africa." *African Human Rights Law Journal* 15: 58–88.
- Mwangi, E.M. 2017. *Translation in African Contexts: postcolonial Texts, Queer Sexuality, and Cosmopolitan Fluency*. Kent, Ohio: The Kent State University Press.
- Ndashe, S. 2013. "The Single Story of "African Homophobia Is Dangerous for LGBTI Activism." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 156–164. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Nkabinde, N. and R. Morgan. 2006. "This Has Happened since Ancient Times. It's Something that You are Born With': ancestral Wives among Same-Sex Sangomas in South Africa." *Agenda* 67(2, 3) African Feminisms: 9–19.
- Nkabinde, Z. 2008. *Black Bull, Ancestors and Me: my Life as a Lesbian Sangoma*. Johannesburg: Jacana.
- Nwoko, K.C. 2012. "Female Husbands in Igbo Land: southeast Nigeria." *The Journal of Pan African Studies* 5(1): 69–82.
- Nyanzi, S. 2013a. "Dismantling Reified African Culture through Localised Homosexualities in Uganda." *Culture, Health & Sexuality* 15(8): 952–967.
- Nyanzi, S. 2013b. "Rhetorical Analysis of President Jammeh's Threats to Behead Homosexuals in the Gambia." In *Sexual Diversity in Africa: politics, Theory, Citizenship*, edited by M. Epprecht, 67–87. Kingston: McGill-Queen's University Press.

- Nyanzi, S. 2014. "Queering Queer Africa." In *Reclaiming Afrikan: queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities*, edited by Z. Matebeni, 65–68. Athlone, South Africa: Modjaji Books.
- Nyeck, S.N. and M. Epprecht. 2013. *Sexual Diversity in Africa: politics, Theory and Citizenship*. Montreal: McGill-Queen's University Press.
- Okech, A. 2013. "Postcolonial Discourses of Queer Activism and Class in Africa." In *African Sexualities: A Reader*, edited by S. Tamale, 9–31. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Olaoluwa, S. 2018. "The Human and the Non-Human: african Sexuality Debate and Symbolisms of Transgression." In *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism*, edited by Z. Matebeni, S. Monro, and V. Reddy, 20–40. London and New York: Routledge.
- ORAM (Organisation for Refugee, Asylum and Migration). 2013. "Blind Alleys: the Unseen Struggles of Lesbian, Gay, Bisexual, Transgender and Intersex Urban Refugees in Mexico, Uganda and South Africa." Part II Country Findings: South Africa. Accessed July 10, 2019. <http://oramrefugee.org/orampublications/>.
- Otero, S. and T. Falofa, eds. 2013. *Yemoja: gender, Sexuality, and Creativity in the Latina/O and Afro-Atlantic Diaspora*. Albany: SUNY Press.
- Other Foundation and HSRC. 2016. "Progressive Prudes: A Survey of Attitudes Towards Homosexuality and Gender Non-conformity in South Africa." Accessed July 10, 2019. https://theotherfoundation.org/wp-content/uploads/2016/09/ProgPrudes_Report_d5.pdf.
- PASSOP (People Against Suffering Oppression and Poverty). 2012. "LGBTQ Refugee Support and Advocacy Project: PASSOP Report. A Dream Deferred: is the Equality Clause in the South African Constitution's Bill of Rights (1996) Just A far-Off Hope for LGBTQ Asylum Seekers and Refugees?" Open Society Foundation for South Africa. Accessed July 10, 2019. www.passop.co.za/wp-content/uploads/2012/06/1.-PASSOP-LGBTI-REPORT-A-Dream-Deferred.pdf.
- PASSOP (People Against Suffering Oppression and Poverty)/Leitner Centre/Open Society Foundation for South Africa. 2013. *Economic Injustice: employment and Housing Discrimination against LGBTQ Refugees and Asylum Seekers in South Africa*. Wynberg/New York: PASSOP. Leitner Centre for International Law and Justice.
- Poku, N.K., K. Esom, and R. Armstrong. 2017. "Sustainable Development and the Struggle for LGBTI Social Inclusion in Africa: opportunities for Accelerating Change." *Development in Practice* 27(4): 432–443.
- Reddy, V., T. Sandfort, and L. Rispel, eds. 2009. *From Social Silence to Social Science: same-sex Sexuality, HIV and AIDS in South Africa*. Cape Town: HSRC Press.
- Report of the United Nations High Commissioner for Human Rights. 2011. "Discriminatory Laws and Practices and Acts of Violence against Individuals Based on Their Sexual Orientation and Gender Identity." Accessed July 10, 2019. www2.ohchr.org/english/bodies/hrcouncil/docs/19session/A.HRC.19.41_English.pdf.
- Rich, A. 1980. "Compulsory Heterosexuality and Lesbian Existence." *Signs* 5(4): 631–660.
- Rodriguez, S.M. 2019. *The Economies of Inclusion: transnational Organizing for LGBTI Rights in Uganda*. Lanham. Maryland and London: Rowman and Littlefield Publishing Group.
- Rudman, A. 2015. "South Africa's Obligations to React to the Intensified Criminalisation of Samesex Conduct in Nigeria and Uganda under Domestic and International Law." *South African Journal on Human Rights* 31(2): 241–268.
- Sandfort, T., M. Somjen Frazer, Z. Matebeni, V. Reddy, and I. Southey-Schwartz Southern African Lesbian and Bisexual Research Team. 2015. "Histories of Forced Sex and Health Outcomes among Southern African Lesbian and Bisexual Women; A Cross-Sectional Study." *BMC Women's Health* 15(2): 1–10. DOI 10.1186/s12905-015-0181-6.
- Schäfer, L. and E. Range. 2014. *The Political Use of Homophobia: human Rights and Persecution of LGBTI Activists in Africa*. Johannesburg: Friedrich Ebert Stiftung Foundation.
- Seckinelgin, H. 2009. "Global Activism in the Time of HIV/AIDS." *Contemporary Politics* 15(1): 103–118.
- Sheik, A. 2015. "Sumptuous Lives: emancipatory Narratives in Selected Stories from *Queer Africa*." *Agenda* 29(1): 164–170.
- Spronk, R. 2012. *Ambiguous Pleasures: sexuality and Middle-class Self-perceptions in Nairobi*. New York: Berghahn Books.
- Steyn, M. and M. Van Zyl, eds. 2009. *The Prize and the Price: shaping Sexualities in South Africa*. Cape Town: HSRC Press.

- Stobie, C. 2007. *Somewhere in the Double Rainbow: representations of Bisexuality in Post-Apartheid Novels*. Scottsville, South Africa: University of KwaZulu-Natal Press.
- Stobie, C. 2011. "Reading Bisexualities from a South African Perspective- Revisited." *Journal of Bisexuality* 11: 480–487.
- Stobie, C. 2014. "The Devil Slapped on the Genitals": religion and Spirituality in Queer South African Lives *Journal of Literary Studies* 30(1): 1–19.
- Swarr, A.L. 2012. *Sex in Transition: remaking Gender and Race in South Africa*. Albany: SUNY Press.
- Tamale, S. 2007. *Homosexuality: perspectives from Uganda*. Kampala: Fountain Publishers.
- Tamale, S., ed. 2011. *African Sexualities: A Reader*. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press.
- Thoresen, R.R. 2014. *Transnational LGBT Activism: working for Sexual Rights*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Vilane, V. 2018. "Experiences of Transgender People in Swaziland." In *Queer in Africa: LGBTQI Identities, Citizenship, and Activism*, edited by Z. Matebeni, S. Monro, and V. Reddy, 178–195. London and New York: Routledge.
- Wittig, M. 1992. *The Straight Mind and Other Essays*. Boston, MA: Beacon Press.
- Zabus, C. 2013. *Out in Africa: same-Sex Desire in Sub-Saharan Literatures and Cultures*. Woodbridge, Suffolk: James Currey.

Part III

Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

W.E.B. Du Bois: From Pioneering Pan-Negroism to revolutionary Pan-Africanism

Reiland Rabaka

Introduction: W.E.B. Du Bois and Pan-Africanism

The African holocaust and African American enslavement; Pan-Africanism and the Peace Movement; Marxism and male-feminism; the African American struggle for human and civil rights; intellectual adoration of, and admiration for Frederick Douglass and Alexander Crummell; disputes with Booker T. Washington and Marcus Garvey—an enigmatic and eclectic combination of critical ideas and interests unfolds across the landscape of William Edward Burghardt Du Bois’s life and work. For many he represents one of the most critical and contradictory race theorists of the twentieth century. Another group of scholars argues that he is the “father of Pan-Africanism” and played a pivotal role in the decolonization of Africa. For other scholars, such as Cedric Robinson in *Black Marxism*, Du Bois was one of the most innovative Marxist theorists in American radical political history, although “his work had origins independent of the impulses of Western liberal and radical thought.”¹ Still other scholars, such as Joy James, Beverly Guy-Sheftall, Cheryl Townsend Gilkes, and Nellie McKay contend that Du Bois’s name, along with those of Charles Lenox Remond and Frederick Douglass, belongs on that very short list of men who openly spoke out against women’s domination and advocated for women’s liberation.² Du Bois’s work, due no doubt to its highly porous nature, has been critically analyzed and appropriated by scores of academics and political activists who harbor harrowingly different intellectual and ideological agendas.³

Although his thought took several crucial intellectual and political twists and turns in his eighty-year publishing career (circa 1883–1963), it is Du Bois’s concepts of race and anti-racism, Pan-Africanism and anti-colonialism, critiques of capitalism and critical Marxism and, most recently, his anti-sexism and male-feminism that have come under the greatest scholarly scrutiny and can be said to have ushered in the contemporary Du Bois renaissance. To be sure, Du Bois’s thought has traveled an almost unfathomable tract of intellectual terrain, receiving commentary and criticism from historians, philosophers, sociologists, political scientists, economists, literary theorists, feminists, womanists, and Marxists, to name only a few intellectual and political communities. However, here the focus will be on the origins and evolution of Du Bois’s distinct Pan-Africanism: from his early black bourgeois, Talented

Tenth-led conservative “Pan-Negroism” to his late life black Marxist, democratic socialist “revolutionary Pan-Africanism.”⁴

William Edward Burghardt Du Bois (pronounced “Due-Boys”) was born five years after the Emancipation Proclamation on 23 February 1868, in Great Barrington, Massachusetts, a tiny mill town in the Berkshire Mountains. The few African Americans in the area worked as domestics in homes or servants at summer resorts, while the Irish, German, and Czech Catholics worked in the town’s factories.⁵ Du Bois was raised solely by his mother, Mary Silvina Burghardt Du Bois, who he described as “a dark shining bronze, with smooth skin and lovely eyes.”⁶ His debonair but delinquent absentee father, Alfred Du Bois, a “Franco-Haitian” “light mulatto” war veteran of “indeterminate color,” went absent before his toddling son turned two years old.⁷ Mary Silvina was a domestic and washerwoman, and supported her precocious son through other odd jobs and outright charity from the well-to-do white town residents. Du Bois’s father’s absence greatly affected him, although perhaps not as much as his mother’s paralytic stroke, which his biographer David Levering Lewis reported, “impaired her left leg or arm, or both.”⁸

Du Bois’s early life, Lewis lamented, was “a milieu circumscribed by immiseration, dementia, and deformity.”⁹ As with so many black children born within the shameful shadow of American slavery, Du Bois grew up very poor and, consequently, developed a consciousness of his lower-class status before he was aware of his race and American racism, even though he was the only black child in his all-white school. It was not long, however, before race and racism unforgivingly crept into his life, and from his first unforgettable and life-altering experience of anti-black racism he defiantly decided to “prove to the world that Negroes were just like other people.”¹⁰

After his mother’s death on 23 March 1885 when he was only sixteen years old, a forlorn Du Bois was determined to make something of himself, solemnly keeping a promise he made to his beloved mother.¹¹ Hence, after high school an orphaned Du Bois sought every scholarship he could find to fund his studies at Fisk University, Harvard University, and the University of Berlin (where he came into contact with Max Weber) before returning to Harvard to become the first African American to be conferred a Ph.D. from that eminent institution in 1895. Tellingly, his doctoral dissertation, entitled *The Suppression of the African Slave Trade to the United States of America, 1638–1870*, was the first social scientific engagement of African American enslavement, according to Lewis.¹² Duly recognizing Du Bois’s monumental achievement, Harvard quickly published the dissertation as the first volume of its Harvard Historical Studies series in 1896. Africa and anti-colonialism, obviously, factored into Du Bois’s discourse early in his intellectual and political life, and it is here during the most formative phase of his life and career that we find the real roots of his Pan-Africanism.¹³

Du Bois began his teaching career as a professor of classics, teaching Latin, Greek, German, and English, from 1894–1896 at Wilberforce University, an African Methodist Episcopal institution in Ohio. He unsuccessfully attempted to add sociology to the curriculum at Wilberforce in 1894, and left the school in frustration for the University of Pennsylvania in 1896, where he was hired as an “Assistant Instructor” to research and write a study on the African Americans of Philadelphia, *The Philadelphia Negro*.¹⁴ At the University of Pennsylvania, however, Du Bois was still not free from frustration, writing in his autobiography, “I ignored my pitiful stipend” and “it goes without saying that I did no instructing, save once to pilot a pack of idiots through the Negro slums.”¹⁵

Pioneering pan-Negroism: Du Bois's early Pan-Africanism, Pan-Racialism, and "The Conservation of Races"

In 1897, a year after Harvard published *The Suppression of the African Slave Trade*, Du Bois presented an important scholarly paper to the American Negro Academy entitled, "The Conservation of Races," in which he continued his quest to connect the struggles of the "Negroes of Africa and America."¹⁶ The American Negro Academy (ANA) was the "first major black American learned society."¹⁷ In its "Constitution and By-Laws" the ANA defined itself as "an organization of Authors, Scholars, Artists, and those distinguished in other walks of life, men of African descent, for the promotion of Letters, Science, and Art." Describing the purpose of the Academy, its "Constitution" stated that the ANA was established: "(a) To promote the publication of scholarly works; (b) To aid youths of genius in the attainment of the higher culture, at home or abroad; (c) To gather into its Archives valuable data, and the works of Negro Authors; (d) To aid, by publication, the dissemination of the truth and the vindication of the Negro race from vicious assaults;" and, lastly, "(e) To publish, if possible, an 'Annual' designed to raise the standard of intellectual endeavor among American Negroes."¹⁸

At the American Negro Academy's inaugural meeting on 5 March 1897 Du Bois delivered his "The Conservation of Races" lecture to simultaneously deconstruct and reconstruct "race." In 1897, when he delivered this address, race was something for which science had no "final word," and no "definite conclusion[s]."¹⁹ Race science was actually *racist science*, a bunch of purportedly biologically-determined, "scientific" categories created by white supremacist "scientists" with an eye aimed at maintaining and magnifying white world supremacy or, rather European global imperialism. Du Bois's deconstruction of race, therefore, was geared toward debunking nineteenth century pseudo-scientific notions of race based on "physical characteristics" and white supremacist anti-black racist conceptions of "Negroes" as the ultimate racial Other.²⁰

Du Bois did not have any deep love of race as a concept. In fact, Tommy Lott observed, in "The Conservation of Races," Du Bois "seems to have meant to undermine the whole business of constructing racial categories."²¹ What excited Du Bois about, and attracted him to, the concept of race was the radical political possibilities it offered for black survival and future flourishing. In "The Conservation of Races" he argued that just as other races had utilized race as an "instrument of progress," likewise continental and diasporan Africans would have to use race to forge what was surely an innovative idea in 1897, "Pan-Negroism." Du Bois declared, the

advance guard of the Negro people—the 8,000,000 people of Negro blood in the United States of America—must soon come to realize that if they are to take their just place in the van of Pan-Negroism, then their destiny is *not* absorption by the white Americans.²²

However, Du Bois was well aware that because continental and diasporan Africans' only exposure to race was the wicked ways in which European colonists used it, as an instrument of oppression and intense exploitation, blacks developed a tendency to "deprecate and minimize race distinctions."²³ The young Du Bois (he was 29 years old in 1897), perhaps paradoxically, believed that race could be put to anti-racist purposes, and especially in anti-African/anti-black, racially segregated, multi-racial and multicultural societies. He counseled the American Negro Academy to consider the historic abuses and reconsider the possible progressive uses of race, sternly stating:

We are apt to think in our American impatience, that while it may have been true in the past that closed race groups made history, that here in conglomerate America *nous avons changer tout cela*—we have changed all that, and have no need of this ancient instrument of progress. This assumption of which the Negro people are especially fond, cannot be established by a careful consideration of history.²⁴

According to Du Bois, a reconstructed concept of race could be used by continental and diasporan Africans as an “instrument of progress” and a weapon against racial oppression. Race, like so many European inventions and European-derived devices, can be adopted for, and adapted in the emancipatory interests of Africans, at home and abroad. The hitch was that the young Du Bois naïvely believed that diasporan Africans were better suited to lead Africa to liberation and independence than continental Africans. As explained by Patricia Romero, Du Bois was indeed a pivotal figure in the shift from “Pan-Racialism to Pan-Africanism” because “his life spanned the period of the rise from slavery and quest for identity of his fellow black Americans, to the creation of an institution expressing an idea fundamental to his entire life—Pan-Africanism.”²⁵ However, his early Pan-Africanism “was unaware of the different types of administrations that had been imposed on the various colonies” and, when we further critically engage his inchoate Pan-Africanism, “he failed to understand the variety of attitudes present [among] the Africans themselves.” For example, Romero reported, “in attempting to resolve the dilemma of the former German colonies by giving a mandate to the educated elite of Afro-America, he was only shifting from one type of outside interference to another.”²⁶

Moreover, Alexandre Mboukou observed that “[b]etween 1896 and 1907 W.E.B. DuBois sent letters to the Firestone Company and the German and Belgian Consuls in the United States offering the services of talented New World Blacks, mainly U.S. Blacks, to aid in their efforts to develop Black Africa.”²⁷ Furthermore, Mboukou continued, Du Bois “particularly felt that the call for self-government was unwarranted during 1900 to 1949 because the black Africans were not yet fully modernized, and thus not capable of manning modern, complex institutions.”²⁸ However, Kwame Nkrumah, Amílcar Cabral, James Coleman, Earl Smith and, more recently, Hakim Adi collectively complicated Mboukou’s claims by emphasizing that even though Du Bois did not initially advocate for unmitigated self-government for continental Africans during the early years of his evolving Pan-Africanism, during Du Bois’s more mature, late life black Marxist revolutionary Pan-Africanist period he was a nonpareil campaigner for continental African decolonization, self-determination, and reparation.²⁹

According to Tunde Adeleke in *UnAfrican Americans: Nineteenth Century Black Nationalists and the Civilizing Mission*, Du Bois was instrumental in the disruption and evolution of diasporan African views of Africa and Africans as a “primitive” place filled with “primitive” people. Unlike nineteenth century black nationalists such as Martin Delaney, Alexander Crummell, and Henry McNeal Turner, who embraced elements of the European “civilizing mission” and “contributed to laying the foundation for the colonization of Africa,” Du Bois ultimately became the leader of a “new generation...with a deeper appreciation of the essence and value of Africa.” And it was this Du Bois-led “new generation” who “evolved a truly counter-European nationalist ideology.”³⁰ In Adeleke’s summation,

W.E.B. Du Bois of the United States, George Padmore, C.L.R. James, and Henry Sylvester Williams of the West Indies, Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya, J.L. Dube and D.D.T. Jabavu of South Africa, Wallace Johnson of Sierra Leone, Hastings Kamuzu Banda of

Nyasaland (Malawi), Nnamdi Azikiwe of Nigeria, and J. Casely-Hayford and Kwame Nkrumah of the Gold Coast (Ghana) all turned “to the historical tradition of black liberation and became black radicals.” These black diasporans embraced Africa and Africans in a relationship that was truly designed for the defense and advancement of mutual interests. Black nationalism and Pan-Africanism assumed an ideologically combative posture, with a truly anti-imperial program that distinctly avoided the contradictory and self-abnegating character of earlier traditions. By 1920, black Americans had the benefit of an informed practical knowledge and understanding of European imperialism. Their perspective, not surprisingly, became very critical of imperialism in east, central, and southern Africa. They developed a very cynical and negative perception of the “civilizing mission.” In essence, they were able to see through the cloak that had blinded the visions of Delaney, Crummell, and Turner.³¹

The main point that should be emphasized here is that although Du Bois’s early articulation of “Pan-Negroism” included elements of the “civilizing mission” discourse promulgated by nineteenth century black nationalists such as Delaney, Crummell and Turner, among others, Du Bois’s “Pan-Negroism” eventually evolved into a more mature Pan-Africanism that strongly stressed the right to self-determination for all African people, continental and diasporan. Moreover, Du Bois’s early emphasis on race and racism, and his slightly later emphasis on anti-colonialism and decolonization, was pivotal in moving Pan-Africanist theory and praxis from the moderatism of nineteenth century “Pan-Negroism” to the militancy of twentieth century Pan-Africanism. As Adeleke further observed, “W.E.B. Du Bois influenced the agenda and set the tone for this aggressively anti-colonial and anti-imperial black nationalist and Pan-Africanist movement. In both utterances and policy formulation, black diasporans demonstrated an awareness of the centrality and pertinence of race in the shaping of the relationship between Europeans and the rest of humankind. They concurred with Du Bois’s identification of the ‘color-line’ as the critical problem of the twentieth century.”³² In other words, as Du Bois evolved his “Pan-Negroism” into Pan-Africanism he “influenced the agenda and set the tone” for continental and diasporan black radicalism and black internationalism throughout the twentieth century and, truth be told, his influence continues to the present.

Popularizing Pan-Africanism: the Du Bois-led Pan-African congresses of 1919, 1921, 1923, and 1927

According to Peter Olanwuche Esedebe in *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*, the Chicago Congress on Africa held in August of 1893 “may be taken as the beginning of Pan-Africanism as a movement.”³³ Among the attendees at the congress were Frederick Douglass, Alexander Crummell, Henry McNeal Turner, Hallie Quinn Brown, and T. Thomas Fortune. Several prominent black leaders, Edward Wilmot Blyden and Booker T. Washington among them, sent papers to be read by proxy. In total, over one hundred papers were delivered at the Chicago Congress, and most of what we know about it comes from Frederick Perry Noble’s 1894 report entitled *The Chicago Congress on Africa: A Statement of the Significant Facts and Salient Features of the Congress*.³⁴ Hakim Adi noted that “African Americans were well-represented, continental Africans less so, and the overall orientation of the Congress retained the Eurocentric notion of the African as subject, rather than agent, and the need to bring ‘civilization’ and commerce to Africa from outside.”³⁵

In 1895, two years after the Chicago Congress on Africa, another congress was organized by the Stewart Missionary Foundation for Africa and convened in Atlanta. The Atlanta Congress on Africa featured presentations by Etna Holderness, by some accounts the first continental African woman to speak at a Pan-African symposium, Crummell, Turner and Fortune. Blyden was, again, unable to attend but had his remarks delivered by proxy. According to Adi, taken together “most of the contributions were concerned with missionary activity and ‘saving’ and ‘civilizing’ Africa.”³⁶ Consequently, it was in the aftermath of the Chicago and Atlanta congresses on Africa that Du Bois initially envisioned “Pan-Negroism” in March of 1897 and the Trinidadian lawyer, Henry Sylvester Williams, established the African Association with other anti-colonial comrades in London in October of 1897. Esedebe noted that “[t]he founders of the African Association were convinced that the time had come when the voice of blacks should be heard in their own affairs and that this could be best achieved by a pressure group.”³⁷ The African Association, however, was “not necessarily opposed to colonial rule, nor the ‘civilizing’ mission” and, in a sense, continued the kind of moderate “Pan-Negroism” that colored and characterized most of what has been identified as inchoate, nineteenth century Pan-Africanism.³⁸

By all accounts, it was Henry Sylvester Williams who spearheaded and was the leading light of what Esedebe, overlooking the Atlanta Congress on Africa in 1895, called the “second Pan-African congregation,” which took place in London on July 23–25, 1900.³⁹ Featuring presentations on slavery, colonialism, racism, and other forms of oppression Africans endured, conference participants were preoccupied with finding solutions to Africa and Africans’ most pressing problems. As a result, there was considerable discussion concerning reparations for Africa and Africans, both continental and diasporan. The inclusion of these kinds of passionate and practical discussions clearly distinguished the London conference from the previous Chicago and Atlanta congresses. Absent from the previous Chicago and Atlanta congresses and seeking to evolve his “Pan-Negroism” idea and turn it into a movement, it was at the Pan-African Conference of 1900 that a 32 year-old Du Bois brought the conference to a climactic conclusion when he delivered “To the Nations of the World,” which read in part:

The problem of the twentieth century is the problem of the color-line, the question as to how far differences of race are going to be made, hereafter, the basis of denying to over half the world the right of sharing to utmost ability the opportunities and privileges of modern civilization. To be sure, the darker races are today the least advanced in culture according to European standards. This has not, however, always been the case in the past, and certainly the world’s history, both ancient and modern, has given many instances of no despicable ability and capacity among the blackest races of men. In any case, the modern world must remember that in this age the millions of black men in Africa, America, and the Islands of the Sea, not to speak of the brown and yellow myriads elsewhere, are bound to have a great influence upon the world in the future, by reason of sheer numbers and physical contact...if, by reason of carelessness, prejudice, greed and injustice, the black world is to be exploited and ravished and degraded, the results must be deplorable, if not fatal, not simply to them, but to the high ideals of justice, freedom and culture which a thousand years of Christian civilization have held before Europe.⁴⁰

Obviously, “To the Nations of the World” served as a sort of preamble to Du Bois’s most well-known work, *The Souls of Black Folk*.⁴¹ Indeed, it was in “To the Nations of the

World” that Du Bois first fused his distinct eloquence with prescience, prophetically and famously intoning: “The problem of the twentieth century is the problem of the color-line.” However, in 1900 Du Bois’s thinking along Pan-Africanist lines was still caught within the confines of the moderatism that characterized much of what passed for Pan-Africanism at the turn of the twentieth century. Note his tongue-in-cheek critique of “European standards” when he asserted that the “darker races are today the least advanced in culture according to European standards,” and that the “darker races” were undoubtedly and intentionally underdeveloped because of Europe’s racial colonialism, its “carelessness, prejudice, greed and injustice,” as Du Bois plainly put it.

We witness here that even in his inchoate Pan-Africanist period Du Bois rejected the longstanding tendency to judge Africans and other “darker races,” the “brown and yellow myriads elsewhere,” by “European standards”—the very standards he had been inculcated with at Fisk University, Harvard University, and the University of Berlin (circa 1885–1895). In a sense, Du Bois’s early Pan-Africanism can be viewed as a rupture with and, ultimately, a rebellion against the Eurocentric and often outright anti-black racist curriculum he had been exposed to during his university years.⁴² Noting the intense intellectual isolation and cultural alienation he experienced “as a Negro” when he was a student at Harvard, in “A Negro Student at Harvard at the End of the Nineteenth Century,” Du Bois revealingly wrote, “I was in Harvard, but not of it.” He continued, “it must be remembered that I went to Harvard as a Negro, not simply by birth, but recognizing myself as a member of a segregated caste.” Nevertheless, he defiantly declared, “I was determined to work from within that caste to find my way out.”⁴³ It seems as though Du Bois spent the remainder of his life attempting to “find [his] way out” of the anti-black racist colonial capitalist world he and his beloved black folk were caught within.

“To the Nations of the World” did not advocate for immediate African self-determination and decolonization, that would come later as Du Bois and his comrades continued to evolve their Pan-Africanism. In “To the Nations of the World,” however, he did audaciously assert that Europe should “give, as soon as practicable, the rights of responsible government to the black colonies of Africa and the West Indies.”⁴⁴ Admittedly, it was not the kind of earthshaking radical decolonial demand that Kwame Nkrumah, Sékou Touré, Patrice Lumumba, Nnamdi Azikiwe, Modibo Keita, Jomo Kenyatta, Julius Nyerere, or Amílcar Cabral, among others, would make more than half a century later (circa 1957–1975). Nonetheless, “To the Nations of the World” should, at the very least, register as a demand and an assertion of continental and diasporan Africans eventual right to self-determination. In other words, in 1900 Du Bois put into play a moderate, gradualist Pan-Africanism that would continue to critically evolve over the next six decades of his storied life.⁴⁵

Du Bois, among many others, kept the Pan-African impulse alive over the next several decades. In fact, in *The Ties That Bind: African American Consciousness of Africa*, Bernard Makhosezwe Magubane went so far to say, “Du Bois was, until his death, the moving spirit and the guiding light of the Pan-African Movement, and an integrated history of the movement cannot be adequately written without touching upon his activities.”⁴⁶ With regard to the key “activities” that influenced the evolution of Du Bois’s Pan-Africanism: Between 1900 and 1903 he continued to massage the manuscript that would ultimately become his most famous book, *The Souls of Black Folk*. In 1903, the same year he published *The Souls of Black Folk*, he also published one of his most famous and controversial essays, “The Talented Tenth,” where he flatly stated: “The Negro race, like all races, is going to be saved by its exceptional men. The problem of education, then, among Negroes must first of all deal with

the Talented Tenth; it is the problem of developing the Best of this race that they may guide the Mass away from the contamination and death of the Worst, in their own and other races.”⁴⁷ In his haste to offset Booker T. Washington’s accommodationism, Du Bois in many senses over-emphasized African Americans’ need for a college-educated leadership cadre and, however unintentionally, set into motion African American intellectual elitism and its corollary black bourgeoisism.⁴⁸

In 1905 Du Bois helped to establish the Niagara Movement (circa 1905–1910), which was a kind of precursor to the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People (NAACP).⁴⁹ In *W.E.B. Du Bois: Black Radical Democrat*, Manning Marable noted that “[a]t the 1906 Niagara Movement conference, a permanent standing committee on Pan-Africanism was initiated.”⁵⁰ Founded in 1909, the NAACP provided Du Bois with an intellectual and political base to continue to evolve his Pan-Africanism, anti-racism, anti-colonialism, male-feminism, and black Marxism between 1910 and 1934 as editor of *The Crisis*, the NAACP’s official magazine. Marable contended that the “central political theme of Du Bois’s editorials in the *Crisis* from 1910 to 1934 was the relationship between racism and American democracy.” However, “[d]espite Du Bois’s intense involvement in domestic civil rights activities,” Marable continued, “he never relinquished his interest in Pan-Africanism.”⁵¹ In fact, Marable shared, “Du Bois’s Pan-African Congresses were an international ‘version’ of the Niagara Movement—small, reform-minded black elites who sought to extend the principles of democracy and self-determination to colonial Africa and the Caribbean.”⁵²

Prior to establishing and editing the *Crisis*, Du Bois edited two short-lived magazines: the *Moon* (circa 1905–1906) and the *Horizon* (circa 1907–1910).⁵³ “*The Horizon* seldom failed to carry at least one note on African issues in its pages,” Marable reported.⁵⁴ This practice was clearly carried over to the *Crisis* and Du Bois’s other publications and political work, and it was during his middle and late life years that Du Bois took as one of his major tasks “to re-establish the cultural and political heritage of African people.”⁵⁵ With this mandate in mind, in 1909 Du Bois proposed the *Encyclopedia Africana*, which would “cover[...] the chief points in the history and condition of the Negro race.”⁵⁶ In 1911 he participated in the Universal Races Congress in London, where he was elected the co-secretary of the American delegation and delivered three papers to an international audience of anti-racist social scientists and activists.⁵⁷

In 1915 Du Bois published *The Negro*, which according to Lewis was the “first general history yet written in English on the subject”—the “subject” being combined continental and diasporan African history, which is also to say *The Negro* was one of the first works of *Africana* history.⁵⁸ In fact, Lewis seemed to almost gleefully note, “*The Negro* was a large building block in an Afrocentric historiography that has achieved credibility through the writings of scholars such as Basil Davidson, Martin Bernal, and Cheikh Anta Diop.” The “pages of *The Negro* were littered with the fallacious concepts exploded by Du Bois”—a practice he would return to in future books such as *Darkwater: Voices from Within the Veil* in 1920, *The Gift of Black Folk: The Negroes in the Making of America* in 1924, *Africa, Its Geography, People and Products* in 1930, *Africa—Its Place in Modern History* in 1930, *Black Reconstruction in America, 1860–1880* in 1935, *Black Folk, Then and Now* in 1939, *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay Toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept* in 1940, *Color and Democracy: Colonies and Peace* in 1945, and *The World and Africa* in 1947.⁵⁹ Indeed, *The Negro* was pivotal among Du Bois’s major publications because it was the first to popularize his “prediction of Pan-African unity and the global solidarity of darker peoples.” This prophecy, Lewis correctly contended, “would have a deep impact upon non-white elites” and anti-colonial activists in Africa and

throughout the African diaspora.⁶⁰ With regard to Du Bois's "prediction of Pan-African unity and the global solidarity of darker peoples," perhaps the most important passage from the concluding chapter of *The Negro* reads:

The Pan-African Movement when it comes will not, however, be merely a narrow racial propaganda. Already the more far-seeing Negroes sense the coming unities: a unity of the working-classes everywhere, a unity of the colored races, a new unity of men. The proposed economic solution of the Negro problem in Africa and America has turned the thoughts of Negroes toward a realization of the fact that the modern white laborer of Europe and America has the key to the serfdom of black folk, in his support of militarism and colonial expansion. He is beginning to say to these workingmen that, so long as black laborers are slaves, white laborers cannot be free. Already there are signs in South Africa and the United States of the beginning of understanding between the two classes.⁶¹

Du Bois continued in an even more prophetic and rhapsodic tone:

In a conscious sense of unity among colored races there is today only a growing interest. There is slowly arising not only a curiously strong brotherhood of Negro blood throughout the world, but the common cause of the darker races against the intolerable assumptions and insults of Europeans has already found expression. Most men in this world are colored. A belief in humanity means a belief in colored men. The future world will, in all reasonable probability, be what colored men make it. In order for this colored world to come into its heritage, must the earth again be drenched in the blood of fighting, snarling human beasts, or will Reason and Good Will prevail? That such may be true, the character of the Negro race is the best and greatest hope; for in its normal condition it is at once the strongest and gentlest of the races of men: "*Semper novi quid ex Africa!*"⁶²

Marable bluntly stated that *The Negro* is arguably "Du Bois's most underrated work." In fact, from Marable's point of view, *The Negro*'s "theoretical departure was Pan-Africanist." He elaborated, in essence Du Bois demonstrated that "no study of African history and culture could ignore both the impact of the transatlantic slave trade, and the extensive links between the continent and the peoples of African descent in the Caribbean and the Americas."⁶³ With regard to African Americans in specific, Marable observed, "Du Bois was also one of the first American scholars to advance the argument that slavery did not destroy all aspects of traditional African culture."⁶⁴ Throughout *The Negro* hints of Du Bois's emerging democratic socialist orientation began to appear. Note in the aforementioned passages Du Bois's references to the "unity of the working-classes everywhere," the "unity of the colored races," and the "new unity of men," as well as the "strong brotherhood of Negro blood throughout the world" and the "common cause of the darker races." Du Bois was obviously articulating a fundamental dictum of democratic socialism, as well as what would be later dubbed "black Marxism" by Cedric Robinson, when he, Du Bois, wrote: "The proposed economic solution of the Negro problem in Africa and America has turned the thoughts of Negroes toward a realization of the fact that the modern white laborer of Europe and America has the key to the serfdom of black folk, in his support of militarism and colonial expansion. He is beginning to say to these workingmen that, so long as black laborers are slaves, white laborers cannot be free." Du Bois's ongoing synthesis of Pan-Africanism and anti-colonialism with

anti-racism and black Marxism reached a crescendo in 1919 when he convened the first Pan-African Congress in Paris.⁶⁵

Culminating with the end of World War I, Du Bois “imagined the immediate creation of a far more effective Pan-African Movement.”⁶⁶ Nineteen years after the Pan-African Conference of 1900, and a decade after he helped to establish the NAACP in 1909, Du Bois sought to use whatever resources at his disposal to popularize the Pan-African idea and movement in the twentieth century. More than occasional Pan-African conferences, Du Bois ambitiously envisioned a “congress” of Pan-African delegates who would have a series of formal meetings concerning the *decolonization*, *re-Africanization* and, ultimately, *liberation* of Africa and the African diaspora. Fifty-seven delegates from Africa, the Caribbean, and the United States participated in the first Pan-African Congress and, just as he had done at the Pan-African Conference in London in 1900, it was primarily Du Bois who penned the congress’ resolution, which read in part: “The Negroes of the world in Pan-African Congress assembled in Paris, February 19, 20, 21, 1919, demand, in the interest of justice and humanity and for strengthening the forces of civilization, that immediate steps be taken to develop the 200,000,000 of Negroes and Negroids.”⁶⁷ In specific, Du Bois and the other congress members advocated for reparations and self-determination for Africa and Africans, specifically with regard to government, land, labor, capital, culture, politics, social organization, religion, education, and medicine. Consequently, Du Bois and his colleagues roughly articulated the Pan-African agenda and decolonial demands for the remainder of the twentieth century.⁶⁸

The second Pan-African Congress assembled in August and September of 1921 and was held simultaneously at three separate sites in London, Paris, and Brussels. Undoubtedly doubling the number of attendees of the previous congress in 1919, approximately 120 delegates came from all over the world to attend the meetings: roughly fifty from Africa; over twenty-five from various European nations; ten from the Caribbean; and the remainder from the United States and elsewhere. Adi observed that the second congress “had many of the features of the first” and, this point should be emphasized, “[i]t was almost entirely the creation of Du Bois.” Adi went further to emphasize that the second congress clearly built on the foundation laid by the first congress. In fact, if nothing else the first Pan-African Congress “re-established[ed] a formal Pan-African Movement, even if this was one assisted by Europeans, as had also been the case in 1900.”⁶⁹

Presiding over the second Pan-African Congress Du Bois was obviously in his element, and staunchly believed that “[f]or the first time in history, conditions were propitious for the construction of a global movement to advance the common cultural and political objectives of people of color,” David Levering Lewis noted in *W.E.B. Du Bois, 1919–1963: The Fight for Equality and the American Century*. “Pan-Africanists had nothing to fear but fear of their own audacity...and racial parochialism,” Du Bois might have declared.⁷⁰ Prophecy and audacity, gradualism and radicalism, anti-racism and anti-colonialism, by the second decade of the twentieth century Du Bois was boldly building on the foundational Pan-Africanism of Frederick Douglass, Martin Delany, Alexander Crummell, Edward Blyden and Henry Sylvester Williams, while also liberally borrowing from Marcus Garvey’s Back to Africa Movement. Garvey and the Universal Negro Improvement Association’s radicalizing influence on Du Bois can be detected in the fact that the manifesto of the Pan-African Congress of 1921 advocated outright for an independent and decolonized Africa. A prime passage from the manifesto reads:

The world must face two eventualities: either the complete assimilation of Africa with two or three of the great world states, with political, civil, and social power and privileges absolutely equal for its black and white citizens, or the rise of a great black African State, founded in Peace and Good Will, based on popular education, natural art and industry and freedom of trade, autonomous and sovereign in its internal policy, but from its beginning a part of a great society of peoples in which it takes its place with others as co-rulers of the world.⁷¹

According to Adi, the manifesto of the 1921 congress was “rather ambivalent,” but “seemed to bear all the hallmarks of Du Bois’s thinking and contained both moderate and more radical aspirations and demands.”⁷² For instance, Du Bois’s advocacy for an independent and decolonized Africa clearly represented a radical shift from the moderatism of the Pan-African Conference of 1900 and the first Pan-African Congress of 1919. Indeed, it was this shift in Du Bois’s conception and articulation of Pan-Africanism that led some of the more moderate attendees of the 1921 congress to charge him with “promoting ‘radicalism’ and ‘separatism,’” among “other dangerous ideas.”⁷³ Garveyism, in fact, influenced and pushed Du Bois in a more militant direction, and as he had done with elements of Booker T. Washington, Ida B. Wells, William Monroe Trotter, and Anna Julia Cooper’s thought, Du Bois incorporated aspects of Garveyism into his evolving Pan-Africanism.⁷⁴ In other words, Du Bois had, once again, “adopted a significant aspect of the program of an intellectual rival and used it as the basis for the next step in his own intellectual and philosophical evolution.”⁷⁵ No matter what Du Bois borrowed from others, and indeed he did adopt and adapt a great deal from others, Lewis went to great lengths to emphasize:

In Du Bois the Pan-African idea found an intellectual temperament and organizational audacity enabling it to advance beyond the evangelical and literary to become an embryonic movement whose cultural, political, and economic potential would assume, in the long term, worldwide significance. No other person of color then living, with the significant and calamitous exception of Marcus Garvey, was more capable of articulating the idea and mobilizing others in its service...Du Bois would brook no compromise of the principles of absolute racial equality and eventual rule of Africa *by* Africans (and not Africa ruled *with* the consent of Africans, as the 1919 Congress demanded).⁷⁶

In the immediate aftermath of the Pan-African Congress of 1921 Du Bois and the Pan-African emissaries worked diligently to legitimate the Pan-African Congresses. They specifically wanted the various colonial powers and the newly-formed League of Nations to acknowledge the legitimacy of the Pan-African Congresses. To that end, Du Bois and his colleagues established what they envisioned to be a permanent Pan-African Association and petitioned the League of Nations directly on 7 September 1921. Their petition read in part:

The second Pan-African Congress desires most earnestly and emphatically to ask the good offices and careful attention of the League of Nations to the condition of civilized persons of Negro descent throughout the world. Consciously and subconsciously there is in the world today a widespread and growing feeling that it is permissible to treat civilized men as uncivilized if they are colored and more especially of Negro descent. The result of this attitude and many consequent laws, customs, and conventions, is that a bitter feeling of resentment, personal insult, and despair, is widespread in the world among those very persons whose rise is the hope of the Negro race.

We are fully aware that the League of Nations has little, if any, direct power to adjust these matters, but it has the vast moral power of public world opinion and of a body conceived to promote Peace and Justice among men. For this reason we ask and urge that the League of Nations take a firm stand on the absolute equality of races and that it suggest to the Colonial Powers connected with the League of Nations to form an International Institute for the Study of the Negro Problem, and for the evolution and protection of the Negro race.⁷⁷

Building on the momentum of the Pan-African Congress of 1921, the Pan-African Congress of 1923 was convened concurrently in London and Lisbon. Years later in *The World and Africa* Du Bois admitted that the 1923 congress was hastily called “without proper notice or preparation” and, as a consequence, it was poorly attended. He also noted that even though the Pan-African Association “functioned for a couple of years,” ultimately it “was not successful.”⁷⁸ The 1923 congress was primarily organized by Du Bois, Ida Gibbs Hunt, and Rayford Logan. Hunt played a particularly pivotal role in the 1923 congress, “personally donating funds to finance the congress.” In addition, Hunt and her colleagues in the National Association of Colored Women paid all of Du Bois’s travel expenses to London and Lisbon.⁷⁹ The resolutions of the Pan-African Congress of 1923 were similar to those of the previous congresses, and strongly stressed that continental and diasporan Africans demanded: the “abolition of the slave trade;” a “voice in their own government;” “right of access to the land and its resources;” “trial by juries of their peers;” free education for all; “[w]orld disarmament and the abolition of war;” the “development of Africa for the benefit of Africans, and not merely for the profit of Europeans;” and, finally and reflecting Du Bois’s developing democratic socialism, the “organization of commerce and industry so as to make the main objects of capital and labor the welfare of the many rather than the enriching of the few.”⁸⁰

Although Du Bois had planned a Pan-African Congress to be held in the Caribbean in 1925, “[w]ith the object of moving the center of this agitation nearer African centers of population,” he emphasized, ultimately the “colonial powers spiked this plan.”⁸¹ Consequently, the fourth Pan-African Congress was not convened until 1927 in New York City and was largely spearheaded by the National Association of Colored Women and the Women’s International Circle for Peace and Foreign Relations, and Annie Dingle and Addie Waits Hunton in particular leading the charge. Having grown weary of “colonial censors and subservient Francophones,” who he believed were “conservative and reactionary and afraid of American Negro radicalism,” Du Bois was not as involved in the planning and programming of the 1927 congress.⁸² Even still, the congress was a success and certainly better attended than the third Pan-African Congress. According to Lewis, by the time the final session closed at Abyssinian Baptist Church...the [1927] congress would have drawn some five thousand participants, among whom 280 were paid delegates representing twenty-two states and the District of Columbia, as well as Haiti, the Virgin Islands, the Bahamas, and Barbados; the Gold Coast, Sierra Leone, Nigeria, and Liberia; Germany; and India.⁸³ The resolutions of the 1927 congress resembled those of the previous congresses, and offered further evidence of Du Bois’s developing democratic socialism by, once again, emphasizing the “reorganization of commerce and industry so as to make the main object of capital and labor the welfare of the many rather than the enriching of the few.”⁸⁴

Reinvigorated, Du Bois immediately began planning the next Pan-African Congress for 1929 and, pulling no punches, he audaciously intended it to be on the African continent. He and the congress planning committee “selected Tunis because of its accessibility,” and

“[e]laborate preparations were begun” but, much like his plan to convene a Pan-African Congress in the Caribbean, colonial politics and economics curtailed the 1929 congress on the African continent. He regretfully wrote, “two insuperable difficulties intervened.” The first difficulty was that the French government “very politely but firmly informed us that the congress could take place at Marseilles or any French city, but not in Africa.” The second difficulty was that the Great Depression made it impossible for the consistently poorly funded congress to go forward. Alas, Du Bois bemoaned, at this point the “Pan-African idea was still American rather than African, but it was growing and it expressed a real demand for examination of the African situation and a plan of treatment, from the native African point of view.” Sadly, Du Bois concluded, the “Pan-African idea died apparently until twenty years afterward, in the midst of World War II, when it leaped to life again in an astonishing manner.”⁸⁵

Revolutionary Pan-Africanism: Du Bois’s anti-racist, anti-colonialist, black Marxist and democratic socialist final phase of Pan-Africanism

According to Walter Rucker, the Pan-African Congress of 1945 was the “most significant” because several of the participants, such as Kwame Nkrumah, Jomo Kenyatta, Hastings Kamuzu Banda and Norman Manley, “would later lead their respective nations to independence.”⁸⁶ The Trinidadian Communist George Padmore (born Malcolm Ivan Meredith Nurse), initiated the fifth congress, initially unbeknownst to Du Bois. At the outset Du Bois was rankled that Padmore had not included him from the start, but the two quickly settled whatever misgivings there may have been and collaboratively coordinated the congress to great success. Reflecting on Du Bois’s key role in coordinating and presiding over the fifth Pan-African Congress, which was held in Manchester, England, on October 15–21, 1945, in his classic *Pan-Africanism or Communism?: The Coming Struggle for Africa*, Padmore shared:

These discussions were conducted under the direction of Dr. Du Bois, who at the age of seventy-three, had flown across the Atlantic from New York to preside over the coming of age of his political child. The “Grand Old Man,” politically ahead of many much younger in years, was given an enthusiastic welcome by the delegates. For he had done more than any other to inspire and influence by his writings and political philosophy all the young men who had foregathered from far distant corners of the earth. Even among older delegations, there were many who were meeting the “Father of Pan-Africanism” in the flesh for the first time. Dr. Du Bois was by no means a silent spectator at the fifth Pan-African Congress. He entered into all the discussions and brought to the deliberations a freshness of outlook that greatly influenced the final decisions; the implementation of which are already shaping the future of the African continent.⁸⁷

Even Du Bois himself believed that the Pan-African Congress of 1945 was particularly noteworthy. “Its significance,” he wrote, “lay in the fact that it took a step toward a broader movement and a real effort of the peoples of Africa and the descendants of Africa the world over to start a great march toward democracy for black folk.”⁸⁸ By 1945, Du Bois’s vision of “democracy for black folk” included not only critiques of racism and colonialism, but also corollary critiques of capitalism and imperialism. Undoubtedly, one of the most distinctive features of the Manchester Congress was that the majority of the 200 participants “were

elected leaders of various mass-constituency organizations or had direct contacts with nascent independence movements.” Consequently, Manning Marable noted, the Manchester participants’ programs had an “immediacy and a comprehensive character that drew strength from actual worker’s struggles.”⁸⁹ However, it is important to observe that Du Bois’s emphasis on “worker’s struggles” neither began nor ended at the fifth Pan-African Congress in 1945. Approximately one decade after he first admonished the American Negro Academy to take their place “in the van of Pan-Negroism” in “The Conservation of Races” in 1897, Du Bois began in earnest to synthesize his evolving anti-racism, anti-colonialism, and Pan-Africanism with democratic socialism in 1907.⁹⁰ It could be said that between his participation in the Pan-African Conference of 1900 and his leadership of five Pan-African Congresses from 1919 to 1945, ideologically and politically Du Bois gradually advanced from conservatism to radicalism, moderatism to militantism, literally, from Pan-Negroism to unapologetic Pan-African Marxism or, rather, Pan-African socialism and black Marxism.⁹¹

The 1920s were a particularly transformative and productive decade for Du Bois, not simply because he was one of the impresarios of the Harlem Renaissance, but also because he published *Darkwater* and established and edited *The Brownie’s Book* monthly magazine for children in 1920; campaigned for the passage of the Dyer Anti-Lynching Bill in 1922; visited Africa for the first time in 1923; published *The Gift of Black Folk* in 1924; published “The Negro Mind Reaches Out” in Alain Locke’s *The New Negro: An Interpretation*, undoubtedly one of the most influential works of the Harlem Renaissance, in 1925; created the Krigwa Players and visited Russia (the Soviet Union) and studied Russian communism for two months in 1926; and published his second novel, *Dark Princess*, in 1928.⁹² All of this is to say, along with convening three Pan-African Congresses in 1921, 1923, and 1927, it was during the 1920s that Du Bois also devoted himself to developing what has been variously called “black Marxism,” “Pan-African Marxism,” or “Pan-African socialism.”⁹³ Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood emphasized that during the period between the first and fifth Pan-African Congresses, circa 1919–1945, Du Bois “increasingly ... became more interested in Marxism and more radical solutions to the social, economic and political problems facing African Americans, Africa and the diaspora.” Adi and Sherwood continued, Du Bois “became increasingly radical in his writings and speeches.” Indeed, “even in old age Du Bois continued his political activity.”⁹⁴

According to Rucker, “[m]any have made the egregious error of criticizing Du Bois over the early phase of his career and not paying due attention to the radical changes that he would undergo for the rest of his life.”⁹⁵ Hence, it is important for us to challenge the tendency to freeze-frame Du Bois as the author of *The Souls of Black Folk* and “The Talented Tenth,” both of which were published in 1903 when he was 35 years old, and then essentially discursively dismiss the next six decades of his eventful life from late 1903 through to his death in 1963 at the age of 95. Du Bois’s ever-evolving post-1903 thought was incredibly complex and contradictory, and those who start and stop with *The Souls of Black Folk* and “The Talented Tenth” do themselves and, most especially, W.E.B. Du Bois a great disservice.⁹⁶ Sadly, many of Du Bois’s staunchest critics and detractors frequently marvel at the evolving nature of Marx, Foucault or Habermas’s thought but, for whatever reason, either dismiss or disparage the ways in which Du Bois doggedly continued to develop his thought, especially during the last 60 years of his life. With that in mind, Rucker importantly reminds us,

DuBois, however, was a man of many careers and ideological stances and should not be essentialized or limited to narrow ideological parameters. Perhaps the most accurate way

of viewing his immense contributions to the liberation struggles of Africans worldwide would be to perform a longitudinal or diachronic study which encompasses several decades of Du Bois's life. In doing so, it becomes quite clear that surrounding him with static categories does more harm than good in creating an effective and accurate lens through which his ideological transformations and the fluidity of his thought can be best viewed and understood.⁹⁷

When Du Bois's ideological evolution is taken into serious consideration it can be acknowledged that he, in fact, went through various stages of black conservatism, black liberalism and, ultimately, black radicalism. Undoubtedly, Du Bois's critical engagement of Marxism and subsequent embrace of democratic socialism, which occurred during the last six decades of his life (circa 1903–1963), altered his conception and articulation of Pan-Africanism. Conversely, however, as Patrick Anderson importantly pointed out in “Pan-Africanism and Economic Nationalism: W.E.B. Du Bois's *Black Reconstruction* and the Failings of the ‘Black Marxism’ Thesis,” Du Bois's evolution, popularization, and radicalization of Pan-Africanism indubitably influenced his critical engagement of Marxism, development of democratic socialism and, ultimately, his inauguration of black economic nationalism.⁹⁸ Indeed, Du Bois scholars harboring diverse intellectual agendas and political persuasions have long hailed Du Bois as the “father of Pan-Africanism.” David Levering Lewis noted that Nkrumah and other continental African leaders, such as Nnamdi Azikiwe and Jomo Kenyatta, saw Du Bois as a “Pan-African Moses” whose long labor in anti-imperialist efforts paved the way for their own Pan-African theories and praxes.⁹⁹ Segun Gbadegesin asserted that “it cannot be doubted that W.E.B. Du Bois remains the most famous intellectual defender of the Pan-African idea and movement.”¹⁰⁰ Moreover, Manning Marable and Arnold Rampersad relate that Du Bois's *The Negro*, not only provided the “Bible of Pan-Africanism,” but also “established a tradition of black socialist historiography that would be enriched in subsequent decades by other Pan-African scholars such as C.L.R. James and Walter Rodney.”¹⁰¹

Taking all of the foregoing into critical consideration we might conclude by asking precisely what is Pan-Africanism according to the “father of Pan-Africanism?” In answer to this question, in a 1933 *Crisis* article entitled “Pan-Africa and New Racial Philosophy,” Du Bois asserted that “Pan-Africa[nism] means intellectual understanding and cooperation among all groups of Negro descent in order to bring about at the earliest possible time the industrial and spiritual emancipation of Negro peoples.”¹⁰² Hence, Pan-Africanism is a movement with a threefold spiritual, intellectual, and political thrust. First, there are the moral claims of the Pan-African Movement, which are deeply rooted in continental and diasporan African history, culture, and struggles. From the Pan-African point of view, the African holocaust, enslavement, colonization, and segregation are morally repugnant and reprehensible, and anyone or any group that perpetrates such horrors and affronts against humanity deserve censure and sanction. Each person in Pan-African cosmology and theology has an inherent worth, dignity, and divinity, and all human beings are equal before God. Therefore, atrocious acts such a holocaust, enslavement, colonization and segregation represent and register as crimes not only against African people, but crimes against the Creator and all creation as well.¹⁰³

Second, as Africans on the continent and in the diaspora became conscious of their common experience of domination and discrimination at the hands of imperialist powers, they formed a united front to fight for their freedom.¹⁰⁴ This gave the Pan-African Movement a definite political dimension that built on the moral base discussed here. Third, combining the moral claims and political programs of the movement, continental and diasporan

Africans quickly became conscious of the concept of race and the reality of racism. Instead of “incessant [racial] self-questioning and the hesitation that arises from it,” the radical Pan-Africanists argued that Africans should invert racism and use it as fuel to fire “race action,” “race responsibility,” and “race enterprises.”¹⁰⁵ According to Du Bois’s discourse, it is not race and race consciousness that cause racism and other racial injustices, but notions of racial superiority and inferiority, as well as racial domination and discrimination. Du Bois contended that race and race consciousness can be utilized in efforts aimed at radically altering the white supremacist social world in which race was/is conceived of and constructed in constraining and conflictual ways. Consequently, race, albeit a *radically reconstructed revolutionary humanist concept of race*, may be the very vehicle that the racially colonized need to use to rescue and reclaim their humanity and achieve decolonization and liberation. As Du Bois declared in *Dusk of Dawn*:

I urged Pan-African solidarity for the accomplishment of universal democracy....So long as we [are] fighting a color-line, we must strive by color organization. We have no choice. If in time, the fight for Negro equality degenerates into organized murder for the suppression of whites, then our last case is no better than our first; but this need not be, if we are level-headed and clear-sighted, and work for the emancipation of all men from caste through the organization and determination of the present victims of caste.¹⁰⁶

From the foregoing, we can clearly see that for Du Bois and his anti-colonial colleagues Pan-Africanism was much more than mere “racial romanticism.”¹⁰⁷ It was a multidimensional and multi-issue movement based on the premise that continental and diasporan Africans deserve and must demand mutual respect, moral recognition, decolonization and *re-Africanization*.¹⁰⁸ Furthermore, for Du Bois Pan-Africanism was not so much about “race” as it was about rallying continental and diasporan Africans to fight against racism, racial colonialism, and racial capitalism.¹⁰⁹ This means that Du Bois’s entire approach to race—from “The Conservation of Races” through to *Color and Democracy* and *The World and Africa*—was more instrumental than anything else. Time and time again he told his readers that although race is a social construction with no real scientific basis, we must not fall into the trap of thinking that racism, racial terrorism, racial colonialism, and racial capitalism are not real. From his Pan-African perspective, the history of the modern world told tale after tale of the reality of racism, racial terrorism, racial colonialism, and racial capitalism.¹¹⁰

One of the most distinctive features of Du Bois’s Pan-Africanism is that it was ultimately simultaneously anti-racist, anti-colonialist, and anti-capitalist. For instance, Robinson, Horne, Marable, and Mullen collectively argued that Du Bois’s distinctive mix of Pan-Africanism and black Marxism evolved even more intensely after the fifth Pan-African Congress of 1945 when he began to travel abroad more frequently and develop comparative analyses of the conditions of continental and diasporan Africans, among other racially colonized and economically exploited people.¹¹¹ Additionally, in *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Quest for the Abolition of the Color-Line*, Zhang Juguang observed that it was Du Bois’s four visits to the Soviet Union in 1926, 1936, 1949, and 1958, as well as his visits to other socialist countries, such as Czechoslovakia, East Germany, and China that quickened, broadened, and “deepened his understanding of socialism.”¹¹² After his initial 1926 visit to the Soviet Union, Du Bois clearly took a greater interest in the more radical aspects of socialism, although he repeatedly asserted that the Russian Revolution was not the rule. However, he was convinced that Russia “had chosen the only way open to her at the time.”¹¹³ He realized early on that

there was no blueprint for bringing democratic socialism into being, and that what might work in one country may not work in another.¹¹⁴

Partly as a result of the economic depression of the 1930s, and to some degree owing to African Americans' incessant political disenfranchisement and economic exploitation, Du Bois began to seriously engage socialism on his own terms during the last three decades of his career. Consequently, he developed one of the first race-based and racism-conscious critiques of capitalism employing a Pan-Africanist/black economic nationalist-informed Marxist methodological orientation.¹¹⁵ In his burgeoning anti-bourgeois and anti-racist view, capitalism was not simply (as many Eurocentric Marxists would have it) a system of economic exploitation, but also a "racial polity," which is to say, a system of racial domination and economic exploitation.¹¹⁶ Race and class struggle combined to create the phenomenological dimensions characteristic of black existence in simultaneously white supremacist, colonialist, and capitalist societies. Moreover, because he found Marxism inadequate for the tasks of theorizing race and racism in both capitalist and colonialist societies, Du Bois created his own—and some of the first—race/class concepts and race/class categories of critical analysis that were often based on Pan-Africanism and black economic nationalism more than Marxism in any orthodox or doctrinaire sense.¹¹⁷

"Despite the apparent shortcomings of [initially] focusing solely on elite people of African descent and seeking redress directly from colonial governments," Anthony Ratcliff insightfully remarked, Du Bois "nevertheless established Pan-Africanism as a legitimate [radical] political framework in which to address problems besieging blacks worldwide."¹¹⁸ From the 1930s through to the 1960s, when many other continental and diasporan African intellectuals were muting and muzzling their criticisms of European imperialism and American capitalism, Du Bois undeniably increased his insurgent intellectualism and radical political activism. After his death in 1963 and, literally, for the remainder of the twentieth century and into the twenty-first century, Du Bois's evolving and, ultimately, *revolutionary Pan-Africanism* has provided the foundation upon which countless black radicals and Pan-African revolutionaries have built their insurgent intellectualism and political radicalism: from C.L.R. James and Walter Rodney, to Kwame Nkrumah and Amílcar Cabral, to the Black Panther Party and Angela Davis, to Manning Marable and Cornel West. Needless to say, Pan-Africanism will remain relevant as long as we continue to be plagued by racism and the ways in which it incessantly overlaps with colonialism and capitalism to create *racial colonialism* and *racial capitalism*. This also means that Du Bois's discourse, particularly his radical Pan-Africanism, will remain relevant until we actually achieve a post-racist, post-colonialist, and post-capitalist world—in other words, a post-imperialist world.

Notes

- 1 Cedric Robinson, *Black Marxism: The Making of the Black Radical Tradition* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000), 186. In *Marxism in the United States*, Paul Buhle asserted that Du Bois's greatest contribution to Marxism was his stinging insistence that the "history of blacks in the USA and in the colonial world did not have to fit into the Marxist context," but that "Marxism had to fit into theirs or lose its relevance." See Paul Buhle, *Marxism in the United States* (New York: Verso, 1991), 169–170.
- 2 For a more detailed discussion of Du Bois's complicated and often contradictory gender politics, anti-sexism, and—what Beverly Guy-Sheftall in *Daughters of Sorrow* called his—"male-feminism," see W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Damnation of Women," in W.E.B. Du Bois, *Darkwater: Voices from Within the Veil* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Howe, 1920), 163–186; Susan Gillman and Alys E. Weinbaum, eds., *Next to the Color-Line: Gender, Sexuality, and W.E.B. Du Bois* (Minneapolis:

- University of Minnesota Press, 2007); Farah Jasmine Griffin, "Black Feminists and W.E.B. Du Bois: Respectability, Protection, and Beyond," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568 no. 1 (2000): 28–40; Beverly Guy-Sheftall, *Daughters of Sorrow: Attitudes Toward Black Women, 1880–1920* (Brooklyn, NY: Carlson, 1990); Gary L. Lemons, "'When and Where [We] Enter': In Search of a Feminist Forefather—Reclaiming the Womanist Legacy of W.E.B. Du Bois," in *Traps: African American Men on Gender and Sexuality*, eds. Rudolph P. Byrd and Beverly Guy-Sheftall (Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2001), 71–89; Gary L. Lemons, *Womanist Forefathers: Frederick Douglass and W. E. B. Du Bois* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 2009); Reiland Rabaka, *W.E.B. Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2007); Reiland Rabaka, *Against Epistemic Apartheid: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Disciplinary Decadence of Sociology* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2010); Reiland Rabaka, ed., *W.E.B. Du Bois: A Critical Reader* (London: Routledge, 2017).
- 3 See, for example, William L. Andrews, ed., *Critical Essays on W.E.B. Du Bois* (Boston: G.K. Hall, 1985); Bernard W. Bell, Emily R. Grosholz, and James B. Stewart, eds., *W.E.B. Du Bois: On Race and Culture* (New York: Routledge, 1996); Edward J. Blum and Jason R. Young, eds., *The Souls of W. E. B. Du Bois: New Essays and Reflections* (Macon: Mercer University Press, 2009); John Henrik Clarke, Esther Jackson, Ernest Kaiser and J.H. O'Dell, eds., *Black Titan: W.E.B. Du Bois* (Boston: Beacon, 1970); Chester J. Fontenot, Mary Alice Morgan, and Sarah Gardner, eds., *W.E.B. Du Bois and Race: Essays Celebrating the Centennial Publication of The Souls of Black Folk* (Macon: Mercer University Press, 2001); Mary Keller and Chester J. Fontenot, eds., *Re-Cognizing W.E.B. Du Bois in the Twenty-first Century: Essays on W.E.B. Du Bois* (Macon: Mercer University Press, 2007); Amy Helene Kirschke and Phillip Luke Sinitiere, eds., *Protest and Propaganda: W.E. B. Du Bois, the Crisis, and American History* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2014); Manning Marable, "Reconstructing the Radical Du Bois," *Souls* 7, no. 3–4 (2005): 1–25; Rabaka, *Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century*; Alford A. Young, Manning Marable, Elizabeth Higginbotham, Charles C. Lemert, and Jerry Gafio Watts, *The Souls of W. E. B. Du Bois* (Boulder: Paradigm, 2006); Shamoon Zamir, ed., *The Cambridge Companion to W.E.B. Du Bois* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008).
 - 4 Major primary sources I have relied on to reconstruct and critically engage the evolution of Du Bois's Pan-Africanism include, but are not limited to, the following: W.E.B. Du Bois, "To the Nations of the World," in *Report of the Pan-African Conference, held on 23rd, 24th, and 25th July 1900, at Westminster Town Hall*, eds. Alexander Walters, Henry Sylvester Williams, Henry B. Brown, and W.E.B. Du Bois (London: Pan-African Conference Committee, 1900), 10–12; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Memorandum to M. Diagne and Others on the Pan-African Congress to be Held in Paris in February, 1919," *Crisis* 17, no. 5 (1919): 224–225; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Pan-African Congress," *Crisis* 17, no. 6 (1919): 271–274; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africa," *Crisis* 21, no. 5 (1921): 198–199; W.E.B. Du Bois, "To the World: Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress," *Crisis* 23, no. 1 (1921): 5–10; W.E.B. Du Bois, "A Second Journey to Pan-African," *New Republic* 29 (December 1921): 39–41; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Africa for Africans," *Crisis* 23, no. 4 (1922): 151–155; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Again, Africa," *Crisis* 23, no. 6 (1922): 251–252; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Back to Africa," *Century Magazine* (February 1923): 539–548; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Third Pan-African Congress," *Crisis* 26, no. 3 (1923): 103; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africa," *Crisis* 27, no. 2 (1923): 57–58; W.E.B. Du Bois, "On Migrating to Africa," *Crisis* 28, no. 2 (1924): 55; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Pan-African Congresses," *Crisis* 34, no. 8 (1927): 263–264; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africa and New Racial Philosophy," *Crisis* 40, no. 2 (1933): 247, 262; W. E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africanism Growing Slowly," *People's Voice*, 25 October 1947, 19; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africanism: A Mission in My Life," *United Asia* 7 (March 1955): 23–28; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Pan-African Movement," in *Colonial and Coloured Unity: A Programme of Action—History of the Pan-African Congress*, ed. George Padmore (London: Hammersmith, 1963), 13–26. For the major secondary sources I have relied on to reconstruct and critically engage the evolution of Du Bois's Pan-Africanism, see Manning Marable, "The Pan-Africanism of W.E.B. Du Bois," in *W.E.B. Du Bois on Race and Culture: Philosophy, Politics and Poetics*, eds. Bernard W. Bell, Emily R. Grosholz, and James B. Stewart (New York: Routledge, 1996), 193–218; Anthony J. Ratcliff, "The Radical Evolution of Du Boisian Pan-Africanism," *Journal of Pan African Studies* 5, no. 9 (2013): 151–171; Reiland Rabaka, "W.E.B. Du Bois and/as Africana Critical Theory: Pan-Africanism, Critical Marxism, and Male-Feminism," in *Afrocentricity and the Academy*, ed. James L. Conyers (Jefferson, NC: McFarland & Co., 2003), 67–112; Reiland Rabaka, "W.E.B. Du Bois

- and Decolonization: Pan-Africanism, Postcolonialism, and Radical Politics,” in *W.E.B. Du Bois, Marcus Garvey, and Pan-Africanism*, ed. James L. Conyers (Lewistown, NY: Mellen Press, 2005), 123–154; Patricia W. Romero, “W.E.B. Du Bois, Pan-Africanists, and Africa, 1963–1973,” *Journal of Black Studies* 6, no. 4 (1976): 321–336; Walter Rucker, “‘A Negro Nation Within the Nation’: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Creation of a Revolutionary Pan-Africanist Tradition, 1903–1947,” *Black Scholar* 32, no. 3–4 (2002): 37–46; Earl Smith, “Du Bois and Africa, 1933–1963,” *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies* 8, no. 2 (1978), 4–33; Daniel Walden and Kenneth Wylie, “W.E.B. Du Bois: Pan-Africanism’s Intellectual Father,” *Journal of Human Relations* 14 (1966): 28–41.
- 5 Robert Paynter and Ernest Allen, “W.E.B. Du Bois and the Material World of African Americans in Great Barrington, Massachusetts,” *Critique of Anthropology* 12, no. 3 (1992): 277–291.
 - 6 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Autobiography of W.E.B. Du Bois: A Soliloquy on Viewing My Life from the Last Decade of Its First Century* (New York: International Publishers, 1968), 64.
 - 7 David Levering Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race, 1868–1919* (New York: Henry Holt, 1993), 23.
 - 8 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 29. On Du Bois’s childhood and adolescence, see Amy Bass, *Those About Him Remained Silent: The Battle Over W. E. B. Du Bois* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2009), 1–22, 83–108; Gerald Horne, *W.E.B. Du Bois: A Biography* (Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 2009), 1–7; Dennis Loy Johnson, “In the Hush of Great Barrington: One Writer’s Search for W.E.B. Du Bois,” *Georgia Review* 49, no. 3 (1995): 581–606; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 11–55; Manning Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Black Radical Democrat* (Boston: Twayne, 1986), 2–8; Arnold Rampersad, *The Art and Imagination of W.E.B. Du Bois* (New York: Schocken, 1990), 1–18.
 - 9 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 29.
 - 10 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Reminiscences of W.E.B. Du Bois: An Oral History* [Transcript of a series of tape-recorded interviews with W.E.B. Du Bois conducted by William T. Ingersoll for the Oral History Research Office of Columbia University in New York City, May 5–6 June 1960] (Glen Rock, NJ: Microfilming Corporation of America, 1972), 5.
 - 11 W.E.B. Du Bois, *Darkwater: Voices from Within the Veil* (New York: Harcourt, Brace & Howe, 1920), 12–13; Du Bois, *The Autobiography of W.E.B. Du Bois*, 102; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 53.
 - 12 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Suppression of the African Slave Trade to the United States of America, 1638–1870* (New York: Longmans, Green & Company, 1896); Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 160–161.
 - 13 For further discussion of the evolution of Du Bois’s relationship with Africa and anti-colonialism, see W.E.B. Du Bois, *W.E.B. Du Bois on Africa*, eds. Eugene F. Provenzo and Edmund Abaka (Walnut Creek, CA: Left Coast Press, 2012). See also Keith E. Byerman, *Seizing the Word: History, Art, and Self in the Work of W.E.B. Du Bois* (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 1994), 81–99; Babacar M’Baye, “Africa, Race, and Culture in the Narratives of W.E.B. Du Bois,” *Philosophia Africana* 7, no. 2 (2004): 33–46; Wilson Jeremiah Moses, *Afrotopia: The Roots of African American Popular History* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998), 136–208; Eric Porter, “Imagining Africa, Remaking the World: W.E.B. Du Bois’s History for the Future,” *Rethinking History* 13, no. 4 (2009): 479–498; Eric Porter, *The Problem of the Future World: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Race Concept at Midcentury* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2010), 103–144; Smith, “Du Bois and Africa, 1933–1963,” 4–33.
 - 14 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Philadelphia Negro: A Social Study* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1899).
 - 15 Du Bois, *The Autobiography of W.E.B. Du Bois*, 197; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 150–192.
 - 16 W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Conservation of Races,” in *The American Negro Academy Occasional Papers*, No. 2 (Washington, D.C.: American Negro Academy Press, 1897), 1–15; W.E.B. Du Bois, *Du Bois: Writings*, ed. Nathan Irvin Huggins (New York: Library of America Press, 1986), 817.
 - 17 Alfred A. Moss, *The American Negro Academy: Voice of the Talented Tenth* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1981), 1.
 - 18 American Negro Academy, “Constitution and By-Laws of the American Negro Academy,” in *American Negro Academy Papers* (Washington, D.C.: American Negro Academy Press, 1897) and American Negro Academy, *The American Negro Academy Occasional Papers*, 1–22 (New York: Arno Press, 1969). See also Moss, *The American Negro Academy*, 1–57.

- 19 Du Bois, *Du Bois: Writings*, 815–816.
- 20 Ibid., 815. See also Lee D. Baker, *From Savage to Negro: Anthropology and the Construction of Race, 1896–1954* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1998), 99–126; Mia Bay, “‘The World Was Thinking Wrong About Race’: The Philadelphia Negro and Nineteenth Century Science,” in *W.E. B. Du Bois, Race, and the City: The Philadelphia Negro and Its Legacy*, eds. Michael Katz B. and Thomas J. Sugrue (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1998), 41–60; Maria Farland, “W.E.B. Du Bois, Anthropometric Science, and the Limits of Racial Uplift,” *American Quarterly* 58, no. 4 (2006): 1017–1045; Faye V. Harrison, “The Du Boisian Legacy in Anthropology,” *Critique of Anthropology* 12, no. 3 (1992): 239–260; Werner J. Lange, “W.E.B. Du Bois and the First Scientific Study of Afro-America,” *Phylon* 44, no. 2 (1983): 135–146; Zane L. Miller, “Race-ism and the City: The Young Du Bois and the Role of Place in Social Theory, 1893–1901,” *American Studies* 30, no. 2 (1989): 89–102; Carol M. Taylor, “W.E.B. Du Bois’s Challenge to Scientific Racism,” *Journal of Black Studies* 11, no. 4 (1981): 449–460; Earl Wright, *The First American School of Sociology: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Atlanta Sociological Laboratory* (New York: Routledge, 2016); Tukufu Zuberi, “W.E.B. Du Bois’s Sociology: The Philadelphia Negro and Social Science,” *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 595, no. 1 (2004): 146–156.
- 21 Tommy L. Lott, “Du Bois’s Anthropological Notion of Race,” in *Race*, ed. Robert Bernasconi (Malden, MA: Blackwell, 2001), 69.
- 22 Du Bois, *Du Bois: Writings*, 817, 820, emphasis in original. For further discussion of Du Bois’s “The Conservation of Races,” see Anthony Appiah, “The Uncompleted Argument: Du Bois and the Illusion of Race,” *Critical Inquiry* 12, no. 1 (1985): 21–37; Robert Bernasconi, “‘Our Duty to Conserve’: W.E.B. Du Bois’s Philosophy of History in Context,” *South Atlantic Quarterly* 108, no. 3 (2009): 519–540; Nahum Dimitri Chandler, “The Economy of Desedimentation: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Discourses of the Negro,” *Callaloo* 19, no. 1 (1996): 78–93; Patrick Goodin, “Du Bois and Appiah: The Politics of Race and Racial Identity,” in *The Quest for Community and Identity: Critical Essays in Africana Social Philosophy* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2002), 73–83; Robert Gooding-Williams, “Outlaw, Appiah, and Du Bois’s ‘The Conservation of Races,’” in *W.E.B. Du Bois on Race and Culture: Philosophy, Politics and Poetics*, eds. Bernard W. Bell, Emily R. Grosholz, and James B. Stewart (New York: Routledge, 1996), 39–56; Thomas C. Holt, “W.E.B. Du Bois’s Archaeology of Race: Re-Reading ‘The Conservation of Races,’” in *W.E.B. Du Bois, Race, and the City: The Philadelphia Negro and Its Legacy*, eds. Michael B. Katz and Thomas J. Sugrue (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1998), 61–76; Chike Jeffers, “The Cultural Theory of Race: Yet Another Look at Du Bois’s ‘The Conservation of Races,’” *Ethics* 123, no. 3 (2013): 403–426; Tommy L. Lott, “Du Bois on the Invention of Race,” in *African American Perspectives and Philosophical Traditions*, ed. John P. Pittman (New York: Routledge, 1997), 166–187; Wilson Jeremiah Moses, “W.E.B. Du Bois’s ‘The Conservation of Races’ and Its Context: Idealism, Conservatism, and Hero Worship,” *Massachusetts Review* 34, no. 2 (1993): 275–294; Lucius T. Outlaw, “On W.E.B. Du Bois’s ‘The Conservation of Races,’” in *Overcoming Racism and Sexism*, eds. Linda A. Bell and David Blumenfeld (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 1995), 79–102.
- 23 Du Bois, *Du Bois: Writings*, 815.
- 24 Ibid., 817.
- 25 Romero, “W.E.B. Du Bois, Pan-Africanists, and Africa,” 321.
- 26 Ibid., 323.
- 27 Alexandre Mboukou, “The Pan-African Movement, 1900–1945: A Study in Leadership Conflicts Among the Disciples of Pan-Africanism,” *Journal of Black Studies* 13, no. 3 (1983): 276. See also W.E.B. Du Bois, “Letter from W. E. B. Du Bois to Firestone Tire and Rubber Company, 26 October 1925,” in W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Correspondence of W.E.B. Du Bois, Volume I: Selections, 1877–1934*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1997), 320–323; W.E.B. Du Bois, “On Migrating to Africa,” in W.E.B. Du Bois, *Against Racism: Unpublished Essays, Papers, Addresses, 1887–1961*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1985), 43–48; J. Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa, 1900–1945: A Study in Ideology and Social Classes* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1973), 60.
- 28 Mboukou, “The Pan-African Movement,” 276–277.
- 29 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 43–60; Amílcar Cabral, *Return to the Source: Selected Speeches of Amílcar Cabral* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1973), 90–91; James Samuel Coleman, *Nigeria: Background to Nationalism* (Berkeley: University of

- California Press, 1958), 188; Kwame Nkrumah, *Ghana: The Autobiography of Kwame Nkrumah* (London: Thomas Nelson & Sons, 1957), 52–53; Smith, “Du Bois and Africa, 1933–1963,” 4–33.
- 30 Tunde Adeleke, *UnAfrican Americans: Nineteenth Century Black Nationalists and the Civilizing Mission* (Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1998), 135. For more detailed discussion of Du Bois’s pivotal role in disrupting and evolving diasporan Africans’ Eurocentric views of Africa and Africans as a “primitive” place filled with “primitive” people, see Sylvia M. Jacobs, “Pan-African Consciousness Among Afro-Americans,” *Western Journal of Black Studies* 8, no. 3 (1984): 172–178; Bernard Makhosezwe Magubane, *The Ties That Bind: African American Consciousness of Africa* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1989), esp., 147–156; Baiyina W. Muhammad, “The Baltimore Afro-American’s Pan-African Consciousness Agenda, 1915–1941,” *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 4, no. 5 (2011): 7–25.
 - 31 Adeleke, *UnAfrican Americans*, 135–136.
 - 32 *Ibid.*, 137.
 - 33 Peter Olaniswuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991* (Washington, DC: Howard University Press, 1994), 39.
 - 34 Frederick Perry Noble, *The Chicago Congress on Africa: A Statement of the Significant Facts and Salient Features of the Congress* (Chicago: Congress on Africa Publications, 1894).
 - 35 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 19.
 - 36 *Ibid.*, 19.
 - 37 Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*, 40.
 - 38 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 20.
 - 39 For further discussion of Henry Sylvester Williams and his Pan-Africanism, see James R. Hooker, *Henry Sylvester Williams: Imperial Pan-Africanist* (London: Collings, 1975); Owen Charles Mathurin, *Henry Sylvester Williams and the Origins of the Pan-African Movement, 1869–1911* (Westport: Greenwood Press, 1976); Marika Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa, and the African Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2012).
 - 40 W.E.B. Du Bois, “To the Nations of the World,” in *W.E.B. Du Bois: A Reader*, ed. David Levering Lewis (New York: Henry Holt, 1995), 639–640.
 - 41 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Souls of Black Folk: Essays and Sketches* (Chicago: A.C. McClurg, 1903).
 - 42 For further discussion of Du Bois’s academic training at Fisk University, Harvard University, and the University of Berlin (circa 1885–1895), see Kenneth Barkin, “‘Berlin Days,’ 1892–1894: W.E.B. Du Bois and German Political Economy,” *Boundary 2* 27, no. 3 (2000): 79–101; Hamilton Beck, “W.E.B. Du Bois as a Study Abroad Student in Germany, 1892–1894,” *Frontiers: The Interdisciplinary Journal of Study Abroad* 2, no. 1 (1996): 45–63; Thomas D. Boston, “W.E.B. Du Bois and the Historical School of Economics,” *American Economic Review* 81, no. 2 (1991): 303–306; Francis L. Broderick, “The Academic Training of W.E.B. Du Bois,” *Journal of Negro Education* 27, no. 1 (1958): 10–16; Francis L. Broderick, “German Influence on the Scholarship of W.E.B. Du Bois,” *Phylon* 19 no. 4 (1958): 367–371; Barrington Steven Edwards, “W.E.B. Du Bois Between Worlds: Berlin, Empirical Social Research, and the Race Question,” *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race* 3, no. 2 (2006): 395–424; Sieglinde Lemke, “Berlin and Boundaries: Sollen Versus Geschehen,” *Boundary 2* 27, no. 3 (2000): 45–78; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 56–149; Reiland Rabaka, *Against Epistemic Apartheid: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Disciplinary Decadence of Sociology* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2010), 337–362; Axel R. Schafer, “W.E.B. Du Bois, German Social Thought, and the Racial Divide in American Progressivism, 1892–1909,” *Journal of American History* 88, no. 3 (2001): 925–950; Shamooin Zamir, *Dark Voices: W.E.B. Du Bois and American Thought, 1888–1903* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1995).
 - 43 W.E.B. Du Bois, “A Negro Student at Harvard at the End of the Nineteenth Century,” *Massachusetts Review* 1, no. 3 (1960): 439. See also Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 79–116.
 - 44 Du Bois, “To the Nations of the World,” 640.
 - 45 For further discussion of the evolution of Du Bois’s Pan-Africanism over the last six decades of his life (circa 1903–1963), see Marable, “The Pan-Africanism of W.E.B. Du Bois”; Ratcliff, “The Radical Evolution of Du Boisian Pan-Africanism”; Romero, “W.E.B. Du Bois, Pan-Africanists, and Africa, 1963–1973”; Rucker, “‘A Negro Nation Within the Nation’.”
 - 46 Magubane, *The Ties That Bind*, 147.
 - 47 W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Talented Tenth,” in *The Negro Problem: A Series of Articles by Representative American Negroes of Today*, ed. Booker T. Washington (New York: J. Pott & Company, 1903), 33.

- 48 For further discussion of Du Bois's Talented Tenth essay and the controversy surrounding the concept, see Francis L. Broderick, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Negro Leader in a Time of Crisis* (Palo Alto: Stanford University Press, 1959); Martin Bulmer, "The Challenge of African American Leadership in an Ambiguous World: W.E.B. Du Bois, Carter G. Woodson, Ralph Bunche, and Thurgood Marshall in Historical Perspective," *Ethnic & Racial Studies* 18, no. 3 (1995): 629–647; William E. Cain, "From Liberalism to Communism: The Political Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois," in *Culture of United States Imperialism*, eds. Amy Kaplan and Donald E. Pease (Durham: Duke University Press, 1993), 456–473; Joseph P. DeMarco, *The Social Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois* (Lanham, MD: University Press of America, 1983), esp., chapter 2; Henry Louis Gates and Cornel West, *The Future of the Race* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1996); William B. Gatewood, "W.E.B. Du Bois: Elitist as Racial Radical," *Georgia Historical Quarterly* 78, no. 2 (1994): 306–327; Francesca R. Gentile, "Marketing the Talented Tenth: W.E.B. Du Bois and Public Intellectual Economics," *Rhetoric Society Quarterly* 47, no. 2 (2017): 131–157; Joy A. James, "The Future of Black Studies: Political Communities and the 'Talented Tenth'," in *Dispatches from the Ebony Tower: Intellectuals Confront the African American Experience*, ed. Manning Marable (New York: Columbia University Press, 2000), 153–157; Marius Jucan, "'The Tenth Talented' v. 'The Hundredth Talented': W.E. B. Du Bois's Two Versions on the Leadership of the African American Community in the Twentieth Century," *American, British and Canadian Studies* 19 (2012): 27–44; Lewis M. Killian, "Generals, the Talented Tenth, and Affirmative Action," *Society* 36, no. 6 (1999): 33–40; Martin Kilson, "The Washington and Du Bois Leadership Paradigms Reconsidered," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568 (2000): 298–313; August Meier, "From 'Conservative' to 'Radical': The Ideological Development of W.E.B. Du Bois, 1885–1905," *Crisis* 75 (1959): 527–536; August Meier, *Negro Thought in America, 1880–1915: Racial Ideologies in the Age of Booker T. Washington* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1963); Reiland Rabaka, *Du Bois's Dialectics: Black Radical Politics and the Reconstruction of Critical Social Theory* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2008), 81–118; Adolph L. Reed, *W.E.B. Du Bois and American Political Thought: Fabianism and the Color-Line* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1997); Elliot M. Rudwick, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Propagandists of the Negro Protest* (New York: Atheneum, 1968); Elliot M. Rudwick, *W.E.B. Du Bois: A Study in Minority Group Leadership* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania, 1960); Elliot M. Rudwick, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Voice of the Black Movement* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1982); Stephanie J. Shaw, *W.E.B. Du Bois and The Souls of Black Folk* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2013); Toni Michelle C. Travis, "Double-Consciousness and the Politics of the Elite," *Research in Race and Ethnic Relations* 9 (1996): 91–123; Jarvis Tyner, "From the Talented Tenth to the Communist Party: The Evolution of W.E.B. Du Bois," *Political Affairs* 76, no. 2 (1997): 5–9; Zamir, *Dark Voices*; Shamoon Zamir, "'The Sorrow Songs'/'Song of Myself': Du Bois, the Crisis of Leadership, and Prophetic Imagination," in *The Black Columbiad: Defining Moments in African American Literature and Culture*, eds. Werner Sollors and Maria Diedrich (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1994), 145–166.
- 49 For further discussion of the Niagara Movement as a precursor to the NAACP, see Mary Frances Berry, "Du Bois as Social Activist: Why We are Not Saved," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568, no. 1 (2000): 100–110; Dominic J. Capeci and Jack C. Knight, "W.E.B. Du Bois's Southern Front: Georgia 'Race Men' and the Niagara Movement, 1905–1907," *Georgia Historical Quarterly* 83, no. 3 (1999): 479–507; Mary Law Chaffee, "W.E.B. Du Bois's Concept of the Racial Problem in the United States: The Early Negro Educational Movement," *Journal of Negro History* 41, no. 3 (1956): 241–258; Jan M. Fritz, "In Pursuit of Justice: W.E.B. Du Bois," *Clinical Sociology Review* 8, no. 1 (1990): 15–26; Christopher E. Forth, "Booker T. Washington and the 1905 Niagara Movement Conference," *Journal of Negro History* 72, no. 3–4 (1987): 45–56; August Meier and John H. Bracey, "The NAACP as a Reform Movement, 1909–1965: 'To Reach the Conscience of America'," *Journal of Southern History* 59, no. 1 (1993): 3–30; Elliot M. Rudwick, "The Niagara Movement," *Journal of Negro History* 42, no. 3 (1957): 177–200. And, for further discussion of the NAACP, see Carol Anderson, *Bourgeois Radicals: The NAACP and the Struggle for Colonial Liberation, 1941–1960* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2014); Beth Tompkins Bates, "A New Crowd Challenges the Agenda of the Old Guard in the NAACP, 1933–1941," *American Historical Review* 102, no. 2 (1997): 340–377; Manfred Berg, *The Ticket to Freedom: The NAACP and the Struggle for Black Political Integration* (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2005); Gloria J. Browne-Marshall, *The Voting Rights War: The NAACP and the Ongoing Struggle for Justice* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2016); Thomas

- L. Bynum, *NAACP Youth and the Fight for Black Freedom* (Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 2013); Langston Hughes, *Fight for Freedom: The Story of the NAACP* (New York: Norton, 1962); Gilbert Jonas, *Freedom's Sword: The NAACP and the Struggle Against Racism in America, 1909–1969* (New York: Routledge, 2005); Charles F. Kellogg, *NAACP: A History of the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1973); Patricia Sullivan, *Lift Every Voice: The NAACP and the Making of the Civil Rights Movement* (New York: New Press, 2009); Kevern Verney and Lee Sartain, eds., *Long is the Way and Hard: One Hundred Years of the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People—NAACP* (Fayetteville: University of Arkansas Press, 2009); Robert L. Zangrando, *The NAACP Crusade Against Lynching, 1909–1950* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980).
- 50 Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 92.
- 51 *Ibid.*, 76, 91.
- 52 *Ibid.*, 120. For more detailed discussion of the *Crisis* during Du Bois's tenure as its editor, see W.E.B. Du Bois, *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Crisis Writings*, ed. Daniel Walden (Greenwich, CT: Fawcett, 1972); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Selections from The Crisis*, Vol. 1, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Millwood, NY: Kraus-Thomson, 1983); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Selections from The Crisis*, Vol. 2, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Millwood, NY: Kraus-Thomson, 1983). See also, Anne Elizabeth Carroll, "Protest and Affirmation: Composite Texts in the *Crisis*," *American Literature* 76, no. 1 (2004): 89–116; Russ Castronovo, "Beauty Along the Color-Line: Lynching, Aesthetics, and the *Crisis*," *PMLA* 121, no. 5 (2006): 1443–1459; Dan S. Green, "W.E.B. Du Bois: His Journalistic Career," *Negro History Bulletin* 40 no. 2 (1977): 672–677; Amy Helene Kirschke, *Art in Crisis: W. E. B. Du Bois and the Struggle for African American Identity and Memory* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2007); Amy Helene Kirschke, "Du Bois and *The Crisis* Magazine: Imaging Women and Family," *Notes in the History of Art* 24, no. 4 (2005): 35–45; Amy Helene Kirschke and Phillip Luke Sinitiere, eds., *Protest and Propaganda: W.E.B. Du Bois, The Crisis, and American History* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2014); Garth E. Pauley, "W.E.B. Du Bois on Woman Suffrage: A Critical Analysis of His *Crisis* Writings," *Journal of Black Studies* 30, no. 3 (2000): 383–410; Elliott M. Rudwick, "W.E.B. Du Bois in the Role of *Crisis* Editor," *Journal of Negro History* 43, no. 3 (1958): 214–240; Sondra Kathryn Wilson, ed., *The Crisis Reader: Stories, Poetry, and Essays from the N.A.A.C.P.'s Crisis Magazine* (New York: Modern Library, 1999).
- 53 See W.E.B. Du Bois, *Selections from the Horizon*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (White Plains, NY: Kraus-Thomson, 1985). See also Susanna Ashton, "Du Bois's '*Horizon*': Documenting Movements of the Color-Line," *MELUS* 26, no. 4 (2001): 3–23; Green, "W.E.B. Du Bois: His Journalistic Career," 672–677; Paul G. Partington, "The *Moon Illustrated Weekly*—The Precursor of the *Crisis*," *Journal of Negro History* 48, no. 3 (1963): 206–216.
- 54 Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 92.
- 55 *Ibid.*, 92.
- 56 For further discussion of Du Bois's *Encyclopedia Africana* project, see Michael Benjamin, "In Search of the Grail: The Conceptual Origins of the *Encyclopedia Africana*," *Information & Culture* 49, no. 2 (2014): 204–233; Clarence G. Contee, "W.E.B. Du Bois and the *Encyclopedia Africana*," *Crisis* 77, no. 9 (1970): 375–379; Clarence G. Contee, "The *Encyclopedia Africana* Project of W.E.B. Du Bois," *African Historical Studies* 4, no. 1 (1971): 77–91; Jonathan Fenderson, "Evolving Conceptions of Pan-African Scholarship: W.E.B. Du Bois, Carter G. Woodson, and the *Encyclopedia Africana*, 1909–1963," *Journal of African American History* 95, no. 1 (2010): 71–91; Henry Louis Gates, "W.E.B. Du Bois and the *Encyclopedia Africana*, 1909–1963," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568, no. 1 (2000): 203–219.
- 57 W.E.B. Du Bois, "Races," *Crisis* 2, no. 4 (August 1911): 157–158; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Races Congress," *Crisis* 2, no. 5 (September 1911): 200–209; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 437–444; Elliott M. Rudwick, "W.E.B. DuBois and the Universal Races Congress of 1911," *Phylon* 20, no. 4 (1959): 372–378.
- 58 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Negro* (New York: Henry Holt & Co., 1915).
- 59 W.E.B. Du Bois, *Darkwater: Voices from Within the Veil* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Howe, 1920); W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Gift of Black Folk: The Negroes in the Making of America* (Boston: Stratford, 1924); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Africa, Its Geography, People and Products* (Girard, KS: Haldeman-Julius Publishing Co., 1930); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Africa: Its Place in Modern History* (Girard, KS: Haldeman-Julius Publishing Co., 1930); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Black Reconstruction in America, 1860–1880* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Company, 1935); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Black*

- Folk, Then and Now: An Essay in the History and Sociology of the Negro Race* (New York: Henry Holt, 1939); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay Toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept* (New York: Harcourt, Brace and Company, 1940); W.E.B. Du Bois, *Color and Democracy: Colonies and Peace* (New York: Harcourt Brace & Co., 1945); W.E.B. Du Bois, *The World and Africa* (New York: Viking Press, 1947).
- 60 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 461–462.
- 61 Du Bois, *The Negro*, 145–146.
- 62 Ibid., 146.
- 63 Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 92.
- 64 Ibid., 93.
- 65 For further discussion of Du Bois's inauguration of black Marxism and his pivotal place within the black radical tradition more generally, see Patrick Anderson, "Pan-Africanism and Economic Nationalism: W.E.B. Du Bois's *Black Reconstruction* and the Failings of the 'Black Marxism' Thesis," *Journal of Black Studies* 48, no. 8 (2017): 732–757; Anthony Bogues, *Black Heretics, Black Prophets: Radical Political Intellectuals* (New York: Routledge, 2003); Charisse Burden-Stelly, "W.E.B. Du Bois in the Tradition of Radical Blackness: Radicalism, Repression, and Mutual Comradeship, 1930–1960," *Socialism and Democracy* 32, no. 3 (2018): 181–206; Gerald Horne, *Black and Red: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Afro-American Response to the Cold War, 1944–1963* (Albany: State University of New York Press, 1986); Marable, "Reconstructing the Radical Du Bois," 1–25; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 99–120; Charles W. Mills, *From Class to Race: Essays in White Marxism and Black Radicalism* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003); Bill Mullen, *Un-American: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Century of World Revolution* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2015); Bill Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Revolutionary Across the Color-Line* (London: Pluto Press, 2016); Reiland Rabaka, *W.E.B. Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2007); Rabaka, *Du Bois's Dialectics*; Reiland Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory: Reconstructing the Black Radical Tradition, from W. E. B. Du Bois and C. L. R. James to Frantz Fanon and Amílcar Cabral* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2009); Reiland Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement: W.E.B. Du Bois, Leon Damas, Aimé Césaire, Léopold Senghor, Frantz Fanon, and the Evolution of an Insurgent Idea* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2015); Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–240; Michael Stone-Richards, "Race, Marxism, and Colonial Experience: Du Bois and Fanon," in *The Cambridge Companion to W.E.B. Du Bois*, ed. Shamoon Zamir (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2008), 102–116; Joe William Trotter, "W.E.B. Du Bois: Ambiguous Journey to the Black Working-Class," in *Reading Southern History: Essays on Interpreters and Interpretations*, ed. Glenn Feldman (Tuscaloosa: University of Alabama Press, 2001), 61–75; William Wright, "The Socialist Analysis of W.E.B. Du Bois" (Ph.D. dissertation, State University of New York at Buffalo, 1985); Ji Yuan, "W.E.B. Du Bois and His Socialist Thought" (Ph.D. dissertation, Temple University, 1998).
- 66 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 575.
- 67 W.E.B. Du Bois, *The Seventh Son: The Thought and Writings of W.E.B. Du Bois, Volume 2*, ed. Julius Lester (New York: Vintage Books, 1971), 193.
- 68 For further discussion of the Pan-African Congress of 1919, see Clarence G. Contee, "Du Bois, the NAACP, and the Pan-African Congress of 1919," *Journal of Negro History* 57, no. 1 (1972): 13–28; Du Bois, "Memorandum to M. Diagne and Others on the Pan-African Congress to be Held in Paris in February, 1919," 224–225; Du Bois, "The Pan-African Congress," *Crisis* 17, no. 6 (1919): 271–274; George Shepperson, "Pan-Africanism and 'Pan-Africanism': Some Historical Notes," *Phylon* 23, no. 4 (1962): 346–358; Sarah Claire Dunstan, "Conflicts of Interest: The 1919 Pan-African Congress and the Wilsonian Moment," *Callaloo* 39, no. 1 (2016): 133–150.
- 69 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 48, 50.
- 70 David Levering Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Fight for Equality and the American Century, 1919–1963* (New York: Henry Holt, 2000), 39.
- 71 W.E.B. Du Bois, "1921 Pan-African Congress, London Manifesto," *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 8, no. 4 (2015): 119.
- 72 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 51. See also Du Bois, "To the World: Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress," 5–10.
- 73 Ibid., 53.
- 74 For further discussion of Marcus Garvey and Garveyism, see Randall K. Burkett, *Garveyism as a Religious Movement: The Institutionalization of a Black Civil Religion* (Metuchen, NJ: Scarecrow Press, 1978); John Henrik Clarke, ed., *Marcus Garvey and the Vision of Africa* (New York: Vintage,

- 1974); Robin Dearmon Jenkins, "Linking Up the Golden Gate: Garveyism in the San Francisco Bay Area, 1919–1925," *Journal of Black Studies* 39, no. 2 (2008): 266–280; E. David Cronon, *Black Moses: The Story of Marcus Garvey and the Universal Negro Improvement Association* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1960); Adam Ewing, *The Age of Garvey: How a Jamaican Activist Created a Mass Movement and Changed Global Black Politics* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2014); Amy Jacques Garvey and John Henrik Clarke, eds., *Garvey and Garveyism* (New York: Collier Books, 1970); Colin Grant, *Negro with a Hat: The Rise and Fall of Marcus Garvey* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008); J. Ayodele Langley, "Garveyism and African Nationalism," *Race* 11, no. 2 (1969): 157–172; Asia Leeds, "'Toward the Higher Type of Womanhood': The Gendered Contours of Garveyism and the Making of Redemptive Geographies in Costa Rica, 1922–1941," *Palimpsest* 2, no. 1 (2013): 1–27; Rupert Lewis and Patrick E. Bryan, eds., *Garvey: His Work and Impact* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1991); Rupert Lewis and Maureen Warner Lewis, eds., *Garvey: Africa, Europe, the Americas* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1994); Rupert Lewis, *Marcus Garvey* (Kingston: University of the West Indies Press, 2018); Tony Martin, *Amy Ashwood Garvey: Pan-Africanist, Feminist, and Wife No. 1* (Dover, MA: Majority Press, 2007); Tony Martin, *Literary Garveyism: Garvey, Black Arts, and the Harlem Renaissance* (Dover, MA: Majority Press, 1983); Tony Martin, *Marcus Garvey, Hero: A First Biography* (Dover, MA: Majority Press, 1983); Tony Martin, *Race First: The Ideological and Organizational Struggles of Marcus Garvey and the Universal Negro Improvement Association* (Dover, MA: Majority Press, 1986); Erik S. McDuffie, "Garveyism in Cleveland, Ohio and the History of the Diasporic Midwest, 1920–1975," *African Identities* 9, no. 2 (2011): 163–182; Erik S. McDuffie, "Chicago, Garveyism, and the History of the Diasporic Midwest," *African and Black Diaspora: An International Journal* 8, no. 2 (2015): 129–145; Rhoda Reddock, "The First Mrs. Garvey: Pan-Africanism and Feminism in the Early Twentieth Century British Colonial Caribbean," *Feminist Africa* 19 (2014): 58–77; Mary G. Rolinson, *Grassroots Garveyism: The Universal Negro Improvement Association in the Rural South, 1920–1927* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2012); Jarod Roll, "Garveyism and the Eschatology of African Redemption in the Rural South, 1920–1936," *Religion and American Culture* 20, no. 1 (2010): 27–56; Tony Sewell, *Garvey's Children: The Legacy of Marcus Garvey* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1990); Judith Stein, *The World of Marcus Garvey: Race and Class in Modern Society* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1991); Ula Y. Taylor, "Intellectual Pan-African Feminists: Amy Ashwood-Garvey and Amy Jacques-Garvey," in *Time Longer than Rope: A Century of African American Activism, 1850–1950*, eds. Charles M. Payne and Adam Green (New York: New York University Press, 2003), 179–195; Ula Y. Taylor, *The Veiled Garvey: The Life and Times of Amy Jacques Garvey* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2003); Emory Tolbert, "Outpost Garveyism and the UNIA Rank and File," *Journal of Black Studies* 5, no. 3 (1975): 233–253; Theodore G. Vincent, *Black Power and the Garvey Movement* (Baltimore: Black Classic Press, 2006).
- 75 Rucker, "'A Negro Nation Within the Nation'," 43.
- 76 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Fight for Equality*, 38–39, 46, all emphasis in original. See also Du Bois, "Pan-Africa," *Crisis* 21, no. 5 (1921): 198–199; Du Bois, "A Second Journey to Pan-African," 39–41.
- 77 W.E.B. Du Bois, "Letter from Pan-African Congress to the League of Nations," 7 September 1921, in W.E.B. Du Bois Papers (MS 312), Special Collections and University Archives, University of Massachusetts Amherst Libraries. For further discussion of Du Bois's idea for an International Institute for the Study of the Negro Problem, see Rabaka, *Du Bois's Dialectics*, 159–182.
- 78 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 241–242.
- 79 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 55.
- 80 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 242. See also Du Bois, "Africa for Africans," 151–155; Du Bois, "Again, Africa," 251–252; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Back to Africa," 539–548; Du Bois, "The Third Pan-African Congress," 103; Du Bois, "Pan-Africa," *Crisis* 27, no. 2 (1923): 57–58.
- 81 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 242.
- 82 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Fight for Equality*, 208.
- 83 *Ibid.*, 209.
- 84 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 242–243. See also W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Pan-African Congresses," *Crisis* 34, no. 8 (1927): 263–264.
- 85 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 242–243.
- 86 Rucker, "'A Negro Nation Within the Nation'," 44. For further discussion of the Pan-African Congress of 1945, see Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *The 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress*

- Revisited (London: New Beacon Books, 1995); Mboukou, "The Pan-African Movement," 283–286; George Shepperson and St. Clare Drake, "The Fifth Pan-African Conference, 1945 and the All-African Peoples' Congress, 1958," *Contributions in Black Studies* 8, no. 1 (1986): 35–66; Marika Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953: What Did 'Pan-Africanism' Mean?," *Journal of Pan-African Studies* 4, no. 9 (2012): 106–127.
- 87 George Padmore, *Pan-Africanism or Communism?: The Coming Struggle for Africa* (London: Dennis Dobson, 1956), 139–140. See also George Padmore, *History of the Pan-African Congress* (London: Hammersmith Bookshop, 1963). For further discussion of George Padmore's life and legacy, see Kwadwo Afari-Gyan, "Kwame Nkrumah, George Padmore, and W.E.B. Du Bois," *Research Review* 7, no. 1 (1991): 1–10; Fitzroy André Baptiste and Rupert Lewis, eds., *Caribbean Reasonings: George Padmore, Pan-African Revolutionary* (Kingston: Ian Randle Publishers, 2009); James R. Hooker, *Black Revolutionary: George Padmore's Path from Communism to Pan-Africanism* (London: Praeger Publishers, 1970); Leslie James, *George Padmore and Decolonization from Below: Pan-Africanism, the Cold War, and the End of Empire* (Hampshire: Palgrave Macmillan, 2015); P. Kiven Tunteng, "George Padmore's Impact on Africa: A Critical Appraisal," *Phylon* 35, no. 1 (1974): 33–44.
- 88 Du Bois, *The World and Africa*, 244.
- 89 Manning Marable, *Black Leadership* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1998), 95.
- 90 See W.E.B. Du Bois, "Socialist of the Path," *Horizon: A Journal of the Color-Line* 1 (February 1907): 3–5, and W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Negro and Socialism," *Horizon: A Journal of the Color-Line* 1 (February 1907): 6–10.
- 91 For further discussion of W.E.B. Du Bois's evolution from conservatism to radicalism and his inauguration of black Marxism, see William E. Cain, "From Liberalism to Communism: The Political Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois," in *Culture of United States Imperialism*, eds. Amy Kaplan and Donald E. Pease (Durham: Duke University Press, 1993), 456–473; Joseph P. DeMarco, *The Social Thought of W.E.B. Du Bois* (Lanham, MD: University Press of America, 1983), 63–104; William Avon Drake, "From Reform to Communism: The Intellectual Development of W.E.B. Du Bois" (Ph.D. dissertation, Cornell University, Ithaca, NY, 1985); Adam Gearey, "W.E.B. Du Bois's Ambiguous Politics of Liberation: Race, Marxism, and Pan-Africanism," *Columbia Journal of Race & Law* 1, no. 3 (2012): 265–272; Thomas C. Holt, "The Political Uses of Alienation: W.E.B. Du Bois on Politics, Race, and Culture, 1903–1940," *American Quarterly* 42, no. 2 (1990): 301–323; Horne, *Black and Red*; Marable, "Reconstructing the Radical Du Bois," 1–25; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 75–165; Mullen, *Un-American*, 56–95; Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 57–104; Rabaka, *Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century*, 83–135; Adolph L. Reed, "W.E.B. Du Bois: A Perspective on the Bases of His Political Thought," *Political Theory* 13, no. 3 (1985): 431–456; Adolph L. Reed, *W.E.B. Du Bois and American Political Thought: Fabianism and the Color-Line* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997), 71–92; Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–240; William M. Tuttle, "W.E.B. Du Bois's Confrontation with White Liberalism during the Progressive Era," *Phylon* 35, no. 3 (1974): 241–258; Jarvis Tyner, "From the Talented Tenth to the Communist Party: The Evolution of W.E.B. Du Bois," *Political Affairs* 76, no. 2 (1997): 5–9; Mark Van Wienen and Julie Kraft, "How the Socialism of W.E.B. Du Bois Still Matters: Black Socialism in *The Quest of the Silver Fleece*—and Beyond," *African American Review* 41, no. 1 (2007): 67–85.
- 92 See Herbert Aptheker, *The Literary Legacy of W.E.B. Du Bois* (White Plains, NY: Kraus International Publications, 1989), 143–209; Horne, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 81–130; Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: The Fight for Equality*, 1–265; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 99–143; Arnold Rampersad, *The Art and Imagination of W.E.B. Du Bois* (New York: Schocken, 1990), 133–218.
- 93 See Opoku Agyeman, "The Super-Marxists and Pan-Africanism," *Journal of Black Studies* 8, no. 4 (1978): 489–510; Earl Anthony, "Pan-African Socialism," *The Black Scholar* 3, no. 2 (1971): 40–45; Guy Martin, *African Political Thought* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), 55–128; Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–240; Micah S. Tsomondo, "From Pan-Africanism to Socialism: The Modernization of an African Liberation Ideology," *African Issues* 5, no. 4 (1975): 39–45; Daniel Walden, "Du Bois's Pan-Africanism: A Reconsideration," *Negro American Literature Forum* 8, no. 4 (1974): 260–262.
- 94 Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787* (London: Routledge, 2003), 50.
- 95 Rucker, "'A Negro Nation Within the Nation,'" 38.

- 96 Rabaka, *Du Bois and the Problems of the Twenty-First Century*; Rabaka, *Du Bois's Dialectics*; Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 37–88; Rabaka, *Against Epistemic Apartheid*; Rabaka, *W.E.B. Du Bois*.
- 97 Rucker, "'A Negro Nation Within the Nation'," 38–39.
- 98 Anderson, "Pan-Africanism and Economic Nationalism," 732–757.
- 99 Lewis, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race*, 8.
- 100 Segun Gbadegesin, "Kinship of the Dispossessed: Du Bois, Nkrumah, and the Foundations of Pan-Africanism," in *W.E.B. Du Bois on Race and Culture: Philosophy, Politics and Poetics*, eds. Bernard W. Bell, Emily R. Grosholz, and James B. Stewart (New York: Routledge, 1996), 221.
- 101 Rampersad, *The Art and Imagination of W.E.B. Du Bois*, 234; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 93. See also Bogues, *Black Heretics, Black Prophets*, 69–94, 125–150; Anthony Bogues, "Black Power, Decolonization, and Caribbean Politics: Walter Rodney and the Politics of *The Groundings with My Brothers*," *boundary 2* 36, no. 1 (2009): 127–147; Anthony Bogues, "C.L.R. James, Pan-Africanism, and the Black Radical Tradition," *Critical Arts* 25, no. 4 (2011): 484–499; Clarence G. Contee "The Emergence of Du Bois as an African Nationalist," *Journal of Negro History* 54, no. 1 (1969): 48–63; Robert A. Hill, "Walter Rodney on Pan-Africanism," *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies* 12, no. 3 (1983): 14–35; Robert A. Hill, "Walter Rodney and the Restatement of Pan-Africanism in Theory and Practice," *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies* 38, no. 3 (2015): 135–158; Brandon Kendhammer, "Du Bois the Pan-Africanist and the Development of African Nationalism," *Ethnic and Racial Studies* 30, no. 1 (2007): 51–71; Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 37–110; Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–286; W.F. Santiago-Valles, "The Caribbean Intellectual Tradition that Produced James and Rodney," *Race & Class* 42, no. 2 (2000): 47–66; George Shepperson, "Notes on Negro American Influences on the Emergence of African Nationalism," *Journal of African History* 1, no. 2 (1960): 299–312; Ronald W. Walters, *Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora: An Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements* (Detroit: Wayne State University Press, 1993), 54–88, 296–353; Kurt B. Young, "Walter Rodney's Pan-African Nationalism," *Peace Review* 20, no. 4 (2008): 487–495.
- 102 W.E.B. Du Bois, "Pan-Africa and New Racial Philosophy," *Crisis* 40, no. 11 (1933): 247, 262.
- 103 For further discussion of African ethics, cosmology, and theology, see Bénézet Bujo, "Differentiations in African Ethics," in *The Blackwell Companion to Religious Ethics*, ed. William Schweiker (Oxford: Blackwell, 2005): 423–437; Ramathate Dolamo, "Botho/Ubuntu: The Heart of African Ethics," *Scriptura: International Journal of Bible, Religion, and Theology in Southern Africa* 112, no. 1 (2013): 1–10; Maulana Karenga, *Odù Ifá: The Ethical Teachings* (Los Angeles: University of Sankore Press, 1999); Maulana Karenga, *Maat, the Moral Ideal in Ancient Egypt: A Study in Classical African Ethics* (London: Routledge, 2003); Emmanuel Martey, *African Theology: Inculturation and Liberation* (Eugene: Wipf and Stock Publishers, 2009); Gwinyai H. Muzorewa, *The Origins and Development of African Theology* (Eugene: Wipf and Stock Publishers, 2000); Segun Gbadegesin, "The Origins of African Ethics," in *The Blackwell Companion to Religious Ethics*, ed. William Schweiker (Oxford: Blackwell, 2005): 413–422; Josiah Ulysses Young, *A Pan-African Theology: Providence and the Legacies of the Ancestors* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1992).
- 104 See Tajudeen Abdul-Raheem, ed., *Pan-Africanism: Politics, Economy, and Social Change in the Twenty-First Century* (New York: New York University Press, 1996); William B. Ackah, *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions—Politics, Identity, and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999); Adi, *Pan-Africanism*; Hakim Adi, *West Africans in Britain 1900–1960: Nationalism, Pan-Africanism and Communism* (London: Lawrence & Wishart, 1997); Adekunle Ajala, *Pan-Africanism: Evolution, Progress, and Prospects* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1974); Bankie Forster Bankie and Kingo Mchombu, eds., *Pan-Africanism/African Nationalism: Strengthening the Unity of Africa and Its Diaspora* (New York: Red Sea Press, 2008); Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism*; Milfred C. Fierce, *The Pan-African Idea in the United States, 1900–1919: African American Interest in Africa and Interaction with West Africa* (New York: Garland, 1993); Imanuel Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement: A History of Pan-Africanism in America, Europe, and Africa* (New York: Holmes & Meier, 1974); C.L.R. James, *A History of Pan-African Revolt* (New York: Haskell House Publishers, 1969); J. Ayodele Langley, *Ideologies of Liberation in Black Africa, 1856–1970* (London: Collings Publishing Group); Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa*; Colin Legum, *Pan-Africanism: A Short Political Guide* (Westport: Greenwood Press, 1976); Don C. Ohadike, *Pan-African Culture of Resistance: A History of Liberation Struggles in Africa and the Diaspora* (Albany: SUNY Press, 2002); Katharina Schramm, *African Homecoming: Pan-African Ideology and Contested Heritage* (London: Routledge, 2010); Thomas E. Smith, *Emancipation without Equality: Pan-African*

- Activism and the Global Color-Line* (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 2018); Vincent Bakpetu Thompson, *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism* (London: Longman, 1969); Walters, *Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora*.
- 105 Du Bois, *Du Bois: Writings*, 821.
 - 106 Du Bois, *Dusk of Dawn*, 310–311.
 - 107 See Broderick, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 123–179; Mboukou, “The Pan-African Movement,” 284–286; Romero, “W.E.B. Du Bois, Pan-Africanists, and Africa,” 321–326; Rudwick, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Voice of the Black Movement*, 208–235; Raymond Wolters, *Du Bois and His Rivals* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 2001), 143–191.
 - 108 For further discussion of re-Africanization and its necessity in the ongoing aftermath of decolonization, see J. Alfred Cannon, “Re-Africanization: The Last Alternative for Black America,” *Phylon* 38, no. 2 (1977): 203–210; Stefania Capone, “Re-Africanization in Afro-Brazilian Religions: Rethinking Religious Syncretism,” in *The Brill Handbook of Contemporary Religions in Brazil*, eds. Bettina E. Schmidt and Steven Engler (Leiden: Brill, 2016), 473–488; Nahayeilli Juárez Huet, “Transnational Networks and Re-Africanization of the Santería in Mexico City,” in *Blackness and Mestizaje in Mexico and Central America*, eds. Elisabeth Cunin and Odile Hoffmann (Trenton: Africa World Press 2013), 165–190; Tina Gudrun Jensen, “From De-Africanization to Re-Africanization,” in *Latin American Religion in Motion*, eds. Christian Smith and Joshua Prokopy (New York: Routledge, 1999), 265–283; Laura Alvarez López, “Language Within the Sacred Space of Candomblé: Identity Markers and Re-Africanization,” *Ibero-Americana* 32, no. 2 (2002): 97–102; Ali A. Mazrui, “Towards Re-Africanizing African Universities: Who Killed Intellectualism in the Post-Colonial Era?,” *Alternatives: Turkish Journal of International Relations* 2, no. 3&4 (2003), 135–163; Tianna S. Paschel, “Re-Africanization and the Cultural Politics of Bahianidade,” *Souls* 11, no. 4 (2009): 423–440; Reiland Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism: Amílcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2014), 231–249; Mwalimu J. Shujaa, “Re-Africanization,” in *The Sage Encyclopedia of African Cultural Heritage in North America*, eds. Mwalimu J. Shujaa and Kenya J. Shujaa (Thousand Oaks: Sage, 2015), 720–723; Peter A. Szok, *Wolf Tracks: Popular Art and Re-Africanization in Twentieth-Century Panama* (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2012); Sekou Toure, *Toward Full Re-Africanization* (Paris: Presence Africaine, 1959).
 - 109 W.E.B. Du Bois, *Against Racism: Unpublished Essays, Papers, Addresses, 1887–1961*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1985). See also Herbert Aptheker, *W.E.B. Du Bois and the Struggle Against Racism* (New York: United Nations Center Against Apartheid, 1983).
 - 110 See Lawrence D. Bobo, “Reclaiming a Du Boisian Perspective on Racial Attitudes,” *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 568, no. 1 (2000): 186–202; Eve Darian-Smith, “Re-Reading W.E.B. Du Bois: The Global Dimensions of the U.S. Civil Rights Struggle,” *Journal of Global History* 7, no. 3 (2012): 483–505; José Itzigsohn and Karida Brown, “Sociology and the Theory of Double-Consciousness: W.E.B. Du Bois’s Phenomenology of Racialized Subjectivity,” *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race* 12, no. 2 (2015): 231–248; Aldon Morris, *The Scholar Denied: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Birth of Modern Sociology* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2015), 1–99; Joel Olson, “W.E.B. Du Bois and the Race Concept,” *Souls* 7, no. 3–4 (2005): 118–128; Porter, *The Problem of the Future World*; Rabaka, *Against Epistemic Apartheid*, 107–174; Paul C. Taylor, “Appiah’s Uncompleted Argument: W.E.B. Du Bois and the Reality of Race,” *Social Theory and Practice* 26, no. 1 (2000): 103–128.
 - 111 Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–240; Horne, *Black and Red*; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 144–217; Mullen, *Un-American*; Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 89–151. See also W.E.B. Du Bois, *W. E. B. Du Bois on Asia: Crossing the World Color-Line*, eds. Bill V. Mullen and Cathryn Watson (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2005); Bill V. Mullen, *Afro-Orientalism* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2004), 1–41.
 - 112 Zhang Juguao, *W.E.B. Du Bois: Quest for the Abolition of the Color-Line* (New York: Routledge, 2001), 137. See also, Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 57–72.
 - 113 W.E.B. Du Bois, “Application for Membership in the Communist Party of the United States of America,” in *W.E.B. Du Bois: A Reader*, ed. David Levering Lewis (New York: Henry Holt, 1995), 632.
 - 114 See W.E.B. Du Bois, “Negroes and the Crisis of Capitalism in the United States,” *Monthly Review* 4 (April 1953): 478–485; W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Negro and Socialism,” in *Toward a Socialist America: A Symposium of Essays*, ed. Helen L. Alfred (New York: Peace Publications, 1958), 179–191;

- W.E.B. Du Bois, "Socialism and the American Negro," in W.E.B. Du Bois, *Against Racism: Unpublished Essays, Papers, Addresses, 1887–1961*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1985), 303–314; W.E.B. Du Bois, "A Social Program for Black and White Americans," in W.E.B. Du Bois, *Against Racism: Unpublished Essays, Papers, Addresses, 1887–1961*, ed. Herbert Aptheker (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1985), 206–218; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Negro and Imperialism," in W.E.B. Du Bois, *W. E. B. Du Bois on Asia: Crossing the World Color-Line*, eds. Bill V. Mullen and Cathryn Watson (Jackson: University Press of Mississippi, 2005), 37–47.
- 115 For further discussion of Du Bois's development of one of the first race-based and racism-conscious critiques of capitalism employing a Pan-Africanist/black economic nationalist-informed Marxist methodological orientation, see Anderson, "Pan-Africanism and Economic Nationalism," 732–757; Willie L. Baber, "Capitalism and Racism: Discontinuities in the Life and Work of W.E.B. Du Bois," *Critique of Anthropology* 12, no. 3 (1992): 339–364; Burden-Stelly, "W.E.B. Du Bois in the Tradition of Radical Blackness," 181–206; Dan S. Green and Earl Smith, "W.E.B. Du Bois and the Concepts of Race and Class," *Phylon* 44, no. 4 (1983): 262–272; Horne, *Black and Red*; Maulana Karenga, "Du Bois and the Question of the Color-Line: Race and Class in the Age of Globalization," *Socialism and Democracy* 17, no. 1 (2003): 141–160; Marable, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 144–217; Mullen, *Un-American*; Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 89–151; Robinson, *Black Marxism*, 185–240; Shannon Sullivan, "Remembering the Gift: W.E.B. Du Bois on the Unconscious and Economic Operations of Racism," *Transactions of the Charles S. Peirce Society* 39, no. 2 (2003): 205–225.
- 116 For further discussion of a "racial polity," see Charles W. Mills, *Blackness Visible: Essays on Philosophy and Race* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1998), 119–137; Charles W. Mills, "The Racial Polity," in *Racism and Philosophy*, eds. Susan E. Babbitt and Sue Campbell (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1999), 13–31. See also Mills, *From Class to Race*, 121–172.
- 117 See W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Negro and Radical Thought," *Crisis* 22, no. 3 (1921): 102–104; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Class Struggle," *Crisis* 22, no. 4 (1921): 151–153; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Socialism and the Negro," *Crisis* 22, no. 6 (1921): 245–247; W.E.B. Du Bois, "The Negro and Communism," *Crisis* 38, no. 9 (1931): 313–315, 318–320; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Karl Marx and the Negro," *Crisis* 40, no. 2 (1933): 55–56; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Marxism and the Negro Problem," *Crisis* 40, no. 5 (1933): 103–104, 118; W.E.B. Du Bois, "Our Class Struggle," *Crisis* 40, no. 7 (1933): 164–165; Du Bois, "Negroes and the Crisis of Capitalism in the United States," 478–485. See also Anderson, "Pan-Africanism and Economic Nationalism," 732–757; Burden-Stelly, "W.E.B. Du Bois in the Tradition of Radical Blackness," 181–206; Green and Smith, "W.E.B. Du Bois and the Concepts of Race and Class," 262–272; Marable, "Reconstructing the Radical Du Bois," 1–25; Mullen, *W.E.B. Du Bois*, 73–88; Trotter, "W.E.B. Du Bois," 61–75.
- 118 Ratcliff, "The Radical Evolution of Du Boisian Pan-Africanism," 153.

Pan-Africanism in the Caribbean

Rodney Worrell

The Caribbean has made a significant contribution to the development of Pan-African thought and activism. The Pan-Africanists have fought long and hard for the dignity and humanity of the African descendants in the Caribbean, Africans on the continent, and all areas where African people were oppressed. Caribbean Pan-Africanists have always had a deep interest with developments on the African continent. They have always sought to give solidarity and assist concretely in the struggle against enslavement, colonialism, neo-colonialism, and racial apartheid. This paper seeks to trace the evolution and development of Pan-Africanism inside the Caribbean from the period of enslavement to the present moment.

Early Pan-Africanism

Tony Martin, correctly stated that “Pan-Africanism became inevitable with the inception of the trans-Atlantic slave trade.”¹ The Africans, who were taken from their homeland and brought to the Caribbean longed to re-connect with their land of origin, this feeling was handed down to their descendants who continued to harbour thoughts of a physical return to their ancestral land, and if that was not possible, of connecting to Africa spiritually and psychologically. The desire to be reunited with Africa helped the enslaved Africans to resist and survive the savage system of chattel slavery. The enslaved Africans recognized that they faced similar problems: enslavement, denial of their humanity, racial discrimination, brutal exploitation, and oppression. Therefore, they were forced to come together and combine their forces for their own survival and the advancement of their social, economic, political, and psychological circumstance. Africans from different ethnic nationalities’ united and combined with Africans born in the Caribbean to fight against their white oppressors and the system of slavery and colonialism. This was manifested in the hundreds of revolts by the enslaved and other forms of resistance.

The successful Haitian Revolution (1791–1804) was a significant development to Pan-Africanism in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth century. The enslaved in Haiti were able to defeat the French, British, and Spanish imperialists and take their independence. Haiti became a safe haven for all Caribbean enslaved people who sought refuge and it provided inspiration for the enslaved to continue to struggle against their enslavement.

The enslaved Africans who escaped their enslavement and formed independent maroon communities in the mountainous forested terrain of the Caribbean sought to recreate “the African environment through language, through religion, through architecture, through social organization in any way they could.”² These communities kept the consciousness of Africa embedded in the psyche of the citizens their communities.

19th century repatriationists

After the abolition of enslavement, the desire to connect physically with African was still prevalent in the thought process of a number of persons from the Caribbean. Liberia, which became independent in 1847, was promoted as the promised land for Africans in the Diaspora. They felt that they would be able to make a contribution to the development of the African continent. Some of them in the missionary tradition of the colonialists felt that they had a duty to go and save the souls of their brothers and sisters and bring civilization to them. A section of them thought about embarking on some form of commercial venture with the continent. Whatever motivated their thinking the idea of repatriating to Africa persisted. Edward Wilmot Blyden was arguably the leading Caribbean advocate of repatriating to Africa. He was born in the Danish West Indian island of St Thomas in 1832. Blyden migrated to Liberia in 1851, where he became an outstanding scholar who engaged and challenged many of the lies and distortions that were being propagated about Africans at this time. He firmly argued that Africa and Africans had a great civilization – the origins of the sciences and the great religions originated in Africa.³ Blyden believed that Liberia had the potential to become the centre of a great West African empire and he envisioned that the skills of Africans on the continent and those outside would be utilized to construct this great nation that would be the guardian for all African people. He recognized the powerlessness and marginality of Africans around the globe both politically and economically, but he believed that this development could be reversed if they would unite. Blyden felt that if Africans remained dispersed and separated, they would be subjugated by other races. For Blyden a strong African state was indispensable in order for the African people to be respected.⁴ He advocated the creation of one vast West African nation. Blyden championed the idea of an African Nationality and felt that he was duty bound to preserve the cultural characteristics of the African race. Although Blyden made a significant error in giving support to British imperialism which he felt was going to be of a short duration, he is still seen as “the ideological father of the idea of West African unity and the cultural nationalism that accompanied it.”⁵

Robert Campbell, a Jamaican, who had been the Director of the Scientific Department of the Institute for Coloured Youth in Philadelphia, accompanied Martin Delany, the African American Pan-Africanist on his exploratory Niger Valley Exploration Mission to the Niger Valley in 1859–60. Campbell described his trip in his book *A Pilgrimage to my Motherland: An Account of a Journey among the Egbos and Yoruba's of Central Africa in 1859–60*. Campbell and Delany signed a treaty with the African authorities at Abeokuta which gave Africans living in North America the right and privilege “of settling in common with the Egba people, or any part of the territory belonging to Abeokuta not otherwise occupied.” Delany and Campbell agreed to bring settlers who were intelligent and educated with some knowledge of the arts and sciences, agriculture, and other mechanical and industrial occupations, which they would put into immediate operation by improving the lands and in other useful vocations.⁶ The mission failed to realize its objectives because the British were establishing themselves in Nigeria and the African-Americans became

sidelined because of the American Civil War and reforms that came with Reconstruction.⁷ However, Campbell settled in Lagos, Nigeria and became a respected member of his community.

Benito Sylvanus was born in Haiti but moved to France and then settled in Ethiopia. He was made a diplomat by the Emperor Menelik.⁸ Theophilus Scholes, a Jamaican migrated to the Congo where he served as a missionary in 1886 for half of a decade. He went to New Calabar in 1894 and stayed for two years.⁹ Like Blyden, Scholes in his writings refuted the idea of African inferiority and pointed out that the great Egyptian civilization was established by blacks. He argued that the “Egyptians were the founders of mathematics, along with the people of India and the mathematics, astronomy, trigonometry and geometry upon which modern European science was based came originally from the much-maligned black race of Egypt.”¹⁰ Scholes was very critical of the colonialism of the British Empire and felt that racism was a tool to ensure the “domination of the white property owners over their labourers.”¹¹

Albert Thorne, a Barbadian who migrated to Jamaica formed the African Colonial Enterprise with a view of taking Africans from the diaspora to settle in British Central. Thorne was unable to bring to fruition his objective. In 1865, 346 Barbadians left Barbados and relocated to Liberia.

The Pan-African association

Henry Sylvester Williams was born in Barbados, but migrated to Trinidad and Tobago as an infant. Williams journeyed to Canada and Britain in pursuit of higher education. He was instrumental in the formation of the African Association in London in 1897.¹² The African Association was concerned with the numerous injustices taking place in Britain’s colonies in Africa and the Caribbean. Williams and the African Association called the first Pan-African Conference in 1900; where about 30 delegates emanated from North America, the Caribbean and Africa. A third of the delegates came from the Caribbean – Jamaica, Antigua, Trinidad, St Lucia, Dominica, Cuba, and Haiti. This conference was called as i) a forum of protest against the white colonizers and ii) to combat the aggressive policies of British imperialism.¹³ The European imperial project was still savaging the African continent with its wars of conquest. This conference reinforced the idea of a shared experience and a common ideal; it sought to buttress the bonds of unity in the struggle and provided a model for calling and hosting Pan-African Conferences.

The African Association was transformed into the Pan African Association (PAA) in 1900. The main objective of this organization was “to secure civil and political rights for Africans and their descendants throughout the world.”¹⁴ A branch of the PAA was founded in Jamaica in 1900, by a number of middle class blacks. However, this branch was short-lived and it was reconstituted as the Anglo-African Association with many of the members and the same objectives.¹⁵ A number of PAA branches were also created in Trinidad and Tobago. Like in Jamaica, the branches were composed of the black middle class and quickly died out.¹⁶ However, the PAA branches represented the first efforts at organizing Pan-Africanism in the region.

The universal Negro improvement association

The Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) was founded in Jamaica in 1914 by Marcus Garvey. After travelling throughout Central America, South America, and Europe,

Garvey recognized that African descendants had no political power and were at the bottom of the economic ladder, and faced severe racial discrimination. Therefore, he decided to create the UNIA in order to work for the betterment of the African diaspora. After the First World War the UNIA movement began to grow at an exponential rate throughout the Caribbean: Jamaica, Trinidad and Tobago, British Guiana (Guyana), St. Vincent, St Lucia, Grenada, Honduras (Belize), Bahamas, St Thomas, Nevis, Haiti, Bermuda, Antigua, Dominican Republic, and Cuba.¹⁷ The UNIA branches were comprised of a male president and female president. The male president dominated the organization, although the majority of the members who attended UNIA meetings and participated in their activities were females. A number of females played key roles in the organization: Amy Ashwood Garvey, Amy Jacques Garvey, Henrietta Vinton Davis, Mamie De Mena, and Alexandrina Gibbs. Gibbs, a lady president in Barbados, was one of the leading ideologues of the UNIA in Barbados in the early 1930s. The Black Cross Nurses, made up of women, performed social welfare activities and served as role models to the young black women.

Garvey's ideas resonated with the masses of Caribbean people who were poor and powerless who were exploited by the racist colonial system. The UNIA gave them a new, positive, conception of themselves by seeking to stress black pride and dignity. They were taught that they were the equal to any white man and not inferior to them as was taught for centuries. This raised the self-esteem and self-confidence in them and also led them to be more assertive in demanding their human rights.

The UNIA in the tradition of the earlier Pan-Africanists had a strong African orientation, with its slogan "Africa for the Africans." Garvey viewed Africa as the ancestral residence of the black man, a space where black people could commence a successful parity with the other races and nations. He wanted to relocate his headquarters to Liberia in the early 1920s but this project was derailed when the Liberia government refused to grant Garvey the permission.¹⁸ In the early 1920s' REM Jack, the Vincentian Garveyite sought to recruit individuals from the Caribbean to work inside of Liberia. Notwithstanding the failure of Garvey's mission of repatriating to Africa, this idea continued to be a constant in the minds of the Garveyites. In the early 1930s, a debate ensued in Barbados about emigration to British Guiana to ease the level of unemployment on the island. The UNIA members were clear that they wanted to go to Liberia and not British Guiana and they sought to mobilise their members to agitate and organize to migrate to Liberia. They were counselled to go to Liberia and Ethiopia and "establish bases to spread further propaganda to create a united and liberated Africa."¹⁹

The UNIA acted as a quasi-labour organization in some of the territories where trade unions were illegal, by advising its members and other blacks to seek a fair day's wage for a fair day's work. Many of them were very active in the labour ferment that took place in the Caribbean in the early 1920s. The UNIA also sought to organize their middle class members who met the qualifications to vote, to cast their vote for a black candidate if one was available so as to get representatives in the legislature to represent their interests.

From inception, the authorities in the various Caribbean territories were very concerned about the growth and the activities of the UNIA and they sought to stymie its growth by using various forms of repression. The *Negro World*, the organ of the UNIA was banned in Honduras in 1919; it was prohibited in British Guiana (1919), proscribed in St Vincent (1919) and banned in Trinidad (1921). Although the paper was not banned in Barbados, the government introduced a seditious publication ordinance in 1920.²⁰ Sections of this paper were read at the weekly UNIA meetings and it was felt that the radical content of the paper might radicalize the Garveyites and make life uncomfortable for the authorities. The

members of the UNIA were constantly harassed and shadowed by the police, their meetings were closely monitored, and some members lost their jobs or were threatened that if they attended UNIA meetings they would be fired. In 1927, when it was rumoured that Garvey was going to visit Barbados and Trinidad, the authorities passed the Expulsion of Desirable Persons Act to prevent Garvey from visiting those islands.²¹ The Garveyities in these islands were eagerly looking forward to his visit and were initiating plans to welcome him. By the late 1930s, many of the UNIA branches were not as strong as they were a decade before, many of the branches were no longer active although Garvey was still able to assembled 25 000 Garveyities in Kingston in 1929, at his 6th International Convention of Negro Peoples of the World. However, the members of the UNIA played major roles in the labour rebellions that rocked the Caribbean in the mid- to late 1930s as leaders and participants.

The Rastafarian movement

The Rastafarian movement was formed in Jamaica in the early 1930s, among the black working and under-classes, a few years after the coronation of Haile Selassie I on November 2nd 1930. Many of the early converts were Garveyites or were influenced by Garvey's teaching. The Rastafarians believed that Emperor Haile Selassie I was the true and the living God.²² They asserted the right of repatriation to Ethiopia, which represented a shift from the earlier Pan-Africanists who championed Liberia as their promised land.²³ The Rastafarians attacked the colonial system and sought to promote African consciousness. They faced repression from the Jamaican state because their members were viewed by large sections of the middle class "as a dangerous sect," and as a result they were subjected to imprisonment for smoking cannabis, and placed "in the lunatic asylum for public utterances deemed seditious."²⁴

The visit of the Emperor Selassie to Jamaica in 1966 gave the Rastafarians a lot of publicity in Jamaica and in the other Caribbean territories. Indeed, the movement spread throughout the Caribbean where it was firstly embraced by the working class youths. However, the Rastafarians faced similar levels of repression for the use of marijuana and the perception that they were a dangerous sect. The most repressive piece of legislation against the Rastafarians was evident inside of Dominica, with the passage of the Dread Act in 1974, which gave "every citizen the right to shoot, without fear of retribution, any individual suspected of being a Dread who entered the property of the said citizen."²⁵ In addition, the law gave the "police the power to arrest any person who resembled a Rastafarian; and a Dread could be given eighteen months in the gaol for wearing locks."²⁶ Notwithstanding the level of repression against the Rastafarians, the movement continue to grow numerically throughout the region and it has become more respected and accepted.

Solidarity with Abyssinia/Ethiopia

In October 1935 when Italy invaded Ethiopia the people in the Caribbean like their counterparts across global Africa rallied to the defence of the Ethiopians in a manifestation of Pan-African solidarity. Ethiopia held a special place in the hearts of Caribbeans because it was mentioned in the bible and it was one of two independent African nations on the continent known for having defeated the imperialist ambitions of the Italians in 1896 at the famous battle of Adowa. The UNIA movement in the region had stimulated a lot of interest in developments on the African continent and at UNIA meetings members would sing "Ode to Ethiopia." One of the main objectives was to win back the glories of Ethiopia. The embryonic Rastafarian movement view the Ethiopian Emperor as their god.

Throughout the region the newspapers provided extensive coverage about the war which was keenly followed by the people. Many of them were outraged by the newspaper reports of the savagery of the Italians and sought to render some assistance to the peoples of Ethiopia. In Trinidad and Tobago, the Negro Welfare Cultural and Social Association (NWCSA) led by Elma Francois and Jim Barrette played a major role in raising the consciousness of the people about the Italian invasion of Ethiopia. In October 1935, the NWCSA held a massive meeting in Port of Spain where the speakers excoriated Great Britain for refusing to sell arms to the Ethiopians and called on African-Trinidadians to boycott French and Italian goods. It also asked the stevedores not to unpack Italian ships. The meeting also passed a resolution where it condemned the "shooting of defenceless men, women and children for the purpose of glorifying Italian Fascist Imperialism."²⁷ Throughout Trinidad the country witnessed the flowering of several Pan-African groups occasioned by the invasion: the Daughter of Ethiopia, the Afro-West Youth Welfare League, Brotherhood and African Progeny and the African National High School.²⁸

In Barbados, there was a series of prayer vigils on behalf of the Ethiopians; money was collected for the Ethiopian Red Cross.²⁹ In 1936, when the Barbadian people heard that the British Foreign Secretary Anthony Eden was going to take the lead at Geneva for calling for the removal of sanctions on Italy, a public meeting was held where over 3000 people attended and passed a resolution calling on Britain to maintain the sanctions on Italy.³⁰ A petition was signed in Guyana in October 1935, seeking permission from King George V to go and fight on behalf of Ethiopia.³¹ A similar petitioned was signed by over 1400 people in Jamaica requesting approval from the King to enlist in the Ethiopian army "to fight to preserve the glories of our ancient and beloved Empire."³² Many Rastafarians wanted to go and fight in Ethiopia.³³ In St Lucia a resolution was also passed requesting authorization to "volunteer for service in Ethiopia."³⁴ The Citizens Committee of Trinidad wanted the law changed so that they could go and fight on behalf of Ethiopia. Section 4 of the Foreign Enlistment Act, 1870, opposed the acceptance of engagements in the military or naval service with any foreign state at peace with His Majesty. Moreover, Article 25 of the Ethiopian Order in Council (1934) prohibited British subjects in Ethiopia from engaging in any operation of war either for or against the Emperor.³⁵ In Grenada, the people collected money for the Ethiopian Ambulance Fund. The people in the Caribbean enthusiastically rendered solidarity and sought to concretely support the peoples of Ethiopia.

Black Power movement

The Black Power movement, which originated in the United States in the mid-1960s, quickly spread to the Caribbean. By 1970 there were several Black Power formations scattered across the region, the Antigua Caribbean Liberation Movement (Antigua), the Peoples Progressive Movement (Barbados), the United Black Association for Development (Belize), the Black Beret Cadre (Bermuda), the United Black Socialists (Dominica), the African Society for Cultural Relations with Independent Africa and Ratoon (Guyana), Abeng (Jamaica), the Forum Group, (St Lucia, St Vincent, Grenada), the National Joint Action Committee, the National Union of Freedom Fighters and the United Movement for Reconstruction of Black Dignity (Trinidad and Tobago). The Black Power message resonated with a large section of the population that recognised that although people of African descent comprised the majority of the population they had little economic power. The commanding heights of the economies were still owned by foreign whites or by local whites. The territories that had received independence had not undergone the kind of social and economic transformation

they had hoped for. They recognized that although they were being ruled by Black men nothing fundamentally had changed. The governments in the region contended that the Black Power movement was not relevant to the Caribbean because the blacks were in the majority and the political directorate was composed largely of Blacks. Walter Rodney pointed out that “a black man ruling a dependent State within the imperialist system has no power. He is simply an agent of the whites in the metropolis, with an army and a police force designed to maintain the imperialist way of things” in that territory.³⁶ Rodney, further explained that Black Power in the Caribbean means: i) the break with imperialism which is historically white and racist, ii) the assumption of power by the black masses on the islands and iii) the cultural reconstruction of the society in the image of blacks.³⁷

Rodney, a Guyanese lecturer at the University of the West Indies, sought to spread the Black Power message with the Rastafarians and the working people in Jamaica. He travelled to Canada to attend a Black Writers Conference and was prohibited from returning to Jamaica by the Hugh Shearer government. Prime Minister Shearer justified his action on the grounds of Rodney’s “destructive anti-Jamaican activities in Kingston, St Andrew, Clarendon and St James.”³⁸ On hearing this news the students from the University of the West organized a protest march which was joined by the members of the working class that resulted in the “Rodney Riots” of October 1968.

Between February and April 1970, Trinidad and Tobago was shaken by a sequence of Black Power marches that were led by the National Joint Action Committee (NJAC). One of the early marches that grabbed the attention of Trinidadians was a solidarity march in Port of Spain with the students who were charged for protesting against the racist professor at the Sir George Williams University in February 1969. On April 20th, the government declared a state of emergency and arrested the leaders of the Black Power movement.³⁹

A Regional Black Power conference was held in Bermuda in 1969, where over 1000 people attended. This conference marked a significant milestone in the development of Black Power in the Caribbean and helped to strengthen the Black Power organizations in the Caribbean and develop links with the similar organizations in the United States. The gathering passed resolutions on a number of issues including: black nationhood, solidarity with Black Power globally and African liberation struggles and the West Indian student-led Black Power protests at Sir George Williams University.⁴⁰

The government of Barbados cancelled the Second Regional Conference from taking place in Barbados in July 1970.⁴¹ The Errol Barrow government that was viewed as less repressive than most of the governments in the Caribbean had been steadily becoming more oppressive and had literally declared war on Black Power advocates on the island. The government had prohibited Geddes Granger and Clive Nunez from NJAC coming to Barbados in April 1970.⁴² It passed a Public Order Act in May 1970 and barred Stokely Carmichael (Kwame Ture) from speaking in Barbados while placing him virtually under house arrest during his brief stay on the island.⁴³ The government also proscribed Rosie Douglas from speaking in Barbados.⁴⁴ While the banning of the conference was mainly the result of pressure coming from the Dutch, British, French, and the United States, it was also part of the war that the Barrow government was waging against the Black Power Activists.⁴⁵

Black Power was also manifested in cultural Black Nationalism as seen in the wearing of dashikis, and Afros, calls for the teaching of Caribbean and African history in the schools, the Africanization of names, calls to make emancipation day a public holiday, the removal of the imperialists statues and the re-naming of the roads that carried imperialists names, calls for revolutionary fighters against enslavement to be made national heroes.

6th Pan-African Congress

The first step taken towards organizing a 6th Pan-African Congress took place at the Regional Black Power Conference in Bermuda in 1969. During the conference, a message was read from Kwame Nkrumah, the deposed president of Ghana, which called for a meeting of black people to be held on the African continent.⁴⁶ The previous Pan-African Congress was held in Manchester in 1945, due to George Padmore, the Trinidadian Pan-Africanist and the Pan-African Federation. Over 30 delegates from the Caribbean attended this conference and all of them were members of trade unions. In April 1971, Roosevelt Brown (Pauulu Kamarakafego) held a meeting in Bermuda to discuss the possibility of holding a sixth Pan-African Congress with some of the leading Pan-Africanists from the region. It was agreed to hold the Congress in Tanzania.⁴⁷

The first Caribbean and South American planning conference took place in February 1973 in Jamaica. At this meeting CLR James and Dr Fletcher Robertson took on the task to author the "Call" for the 6th Pan-African Congress. A follow up conference took place inside of Guyana in December, where some of the leading Pan-Africanists from the Caribbean were critical of the policies being pursued by the governments in the region. The Forbes Burnham government one of the sponsors of the conference took offence at the comments of the Pan-Africanists and wrote a letter of complaint to the Tanzanian government, expressing their displeasure about the tone and content of the conference.⁴⁸ A few months before the conference, the Caribbean governments told President Nyerere that if the progressive Pan-Africanists from the Caribbean were allowed to speak at the Congress and embarrass their governments, they would stay away from the conference. A few weeks before the congress, the Caribbean Steering Committee was informed that "only governments and ruling parties would be invited to this historic congress as delegates."⁴⁹

To register their disapproval at this decision the Caribbean Steering Committee took the principle position of boycotting the conference. CLR James, the veteran Pan-Africanist who had played a key role in promoting the conference refused to attend the meeting in solidarity with the Caribbean Pan-Africanists. Representatives from the governments of Jamaica, Trinidad and Tobago and Grenada attended the conference. It was a travesty and a major contradiction that Eric Gairy, arguably the most repressive leader of a Caribbean state (Grenada), attended the conference and the progressive Caribbean Pan-Africanists did not. In 1970, Gairy had introduced the Emergency Powers Act and made it clear that they have "to wet our house ... in order to prevent the (Black Power) fire from spreading to Grenada."⁵⁰ The 6th Pan-African Congress was robbed of the contributions of the Caribbean Pan-Africanists who had spent much time, energy, and money preparing for the gathering.

Anti-apartheid activity

While the Italian-Ethiopian struggle represented the best manifestation of Pan-African solidarity in the first half of the twentieth century, the battle against apartheid in South Africa was the best demonstration of unity in the struggle of African people in the second half of the twentieth century. Throughout the Caribbean a number of anti-apartheid groups were created in solidarity with the oppressed black people in South Africa to educate the people about developments in South Africa and to provide moral and material support to their oppressed brothers and sisters. The Afro-Caribbean Liberation Movement in Antigua under the leadership of Tim Hector used the *Outlet* newspaper and "consistently called for the boycott of South African goods and carried numerous articles exposing the apartheid regime."⁵¹

Like most of the anti-apartheid groups in the region they spent a lot of time seeking to educate the people about the horrors of the apartheid system.

One other anti-apartheid group that stood out was the Southern African Liberation Committee (SALC), which was formed in Barbados in 1977, to “render material and moral support with the oppressed of South Africa.”⁵² In 1977, Joshua Nkomo, the leader of the Zimbabwe African People’s Union, revealed that a “South African ship had left New York and passed through Antigua with tons of munitions, including machine guns and mortars.” This announcement led the SALC and the ACLM to call for the closure of the Space Research Corporation branches in Barbados and Antigua. The SALC published a small pamphlet “*How a Transnational-Munitions Co. Used A West Indies Government to Test Artillery Shells for the South African Armed Forces,*” to inform their readers about how the High Altitude Research Project came to Barbados in the early 1960s to carry out experiments that would have benefitted the world but ended up providing technology and weapons for the racist South African government.⁵³ The Trinidadian Oilfield Workers Trade Union told the Antigua government that if did not take action against the Space Research Corporation, “then the union would place a ban on all goods coming out of Antigua.”⁵⁴ The Space Research Corporation was finally closed down in Barbados and Antigua in 1978.

Cricket and anti-apartheid

Caribbean people are very passionate about cricket – this sport is very popular among a large section of the population. However, cricket was more than entertainment as CLR argued in *Beyond a Boundary*, it had social and political overtones that impacted on the wider society. As part of its independence celebrations, Barbados was supposed to play a Rest of the World cricket team in March 1967. Peter Pollock and Grame Pollock from South Africa and Colin Bland from Rhodesia were selected to be part of the Rest of World team. At this time both Rhodesia and South Africa were being censored because of their racist and oppressive policies. The Peoples Progressive Movement (PPM) held several meetings throughout the island where they attacked the racist apartheid system and condemned the inclusion of the Southern African cricketers. The invitation was subsequently withdrawn in January 1967, after the South African said that Basil D’Olliveria, a coloured cricketer would not be welcome in South Africa. The PPM were credited for their contribution in preventing the cricketers from playing in Barbados.

In 1981, the Forbes Burnham government expelled the English cricketer Robin Jackman from Guyana because he had played cricket and coached in South Africa. This action led to the cancellation of the Second Test match. The SALC supported the action taken by Burnham and insisted that the Caribbean governments should have followed Guyana’s example. They felt that given the fact that the Organization of African Unity, the primary Pan-African body in Africa had supported Burnham’s position as “eloquent testimony of solidarity with the oppressed people in South Africa and Namibia.”⁵⁵ The Barbados Workers Union the largest trade union on the island called for the tour to be discontinued because the cricketers involved had demonstrated: i) a blatant disregard for international feelings against apartheid; ii) the plight of black people in South Africa and iii) the Gleneagles Accord signed by Commonwealth Prime Ministers in 1977.⁵⁶ The foreign ministers of Barbados, Antigua, Jamaica, and Montserrat met in Barbados and decided that the tour would continue and stressed that it is the “obligation of the governments under the agreement to discourage such contacts by their nationals and we expect national sportsmen to lend their support.”⁵⁷

The SALC was critical of the position taken by the foreign ministers and suggested that by selecting Robin Jackman and any others who have played cricket in the racist Republic of South Africa since the passage of the Gleneagles Accord, the English breached both the spirit and the letter of the agreement.⁵⁸ The SALC led a small but vocal demonstration in Barbados to protest against the inclusion of Robin Jackman in the English side.⁵⁹ In Jamaica there was also a small protest against Robin Jackman and the English cricket team.⁶⁰

In 1983, the Caribbean people were devastated when a rebel West Indian cricket team decided to go and play cricket in South Africa. This was seen as the ultimate betrayal by the Pan-Africanists, the anti-apartheid groupings and a section of the population. The United Nations Special Committee Against Apartheid had called for a total boycott of sport exchanges with South Africa.⁶¹ As part of a wider struggle to “isolate South Africa economically” and “undermine white moral and keep the question of racial rule on the international agenda.”⁶² Therefore, the cricketers by their actions had undermined the policy of isolating South Africa from sport. The West Indies Group of University Teachers at the Cave Hill Campus strongly dismissed the argument of financial benefits to the cricketers as the main reason for going to South Africa and suggested that the “dignity of the black race” should have taken priority.⁶³ Maurice Bishop the Grenadian Prime Minister, felt that “the money earned by those touring South Africa should be confiscated and turned over to the African liberation fighters.”⁶⁴ The Pan-Africanists called for and supported the life ban placed on the cricketers from representing the West Indies team or their territorial teams.

In 1986, the English cricket team teamed toured the West Indies with four cricketers who had played in South Africa during the English rebel tour of South Africa in 1982. While the tour had the support of the governments it did not have the blessings of the anti-apartheid groups who did not forgive the English cricketers for playing in South Africa. Before the arrival of the English team the anti-apartheid groups had signalled their intention to make the English feel unwelcomed. The English landed in Barbados where they were met by the SALC and other anti-apartheid protesters. This protest set the tone for how the English were going to be treated during the tour. During the test match in Barbados there was a protest led by the Guild of Undergraduates from the University of the West Indies.⁶⁵ In Trinidad, the Airport and Allied Workers Union instructed its members not to handle the aircraft bringing the English team to Piarco Airport. The Public Service Association advised the immigration and custom officials not to process the players. There were demonstrations every day of the test match in Trinidad.⁶⁶ Protests against the tour also took place in St Vincent, Antigua, and Jamaica and the spectators did not patronize the tour matches as was hoped although the test matches had sizeable crowds.⁶⁷

In 1992, the South African cricket team toured the West Indies after being re-admitted to playing test cricket (last played in 1968). The tour was given the blessings of the Caribbean governments, and Nelson Mandela – the leader of the African National Congress. However, a section of Pan-Africanists in Barbados felt that this cricket match was premature since South African had not yet held multi-racial elections. The South African cricket team was met by protestors at the airport, who expressed their displeasure at seeing a South African cricket team in Barbados while black South Africans could not vote. The test match was played under a cloud of controversy and the spectators boycotted the match to send a message to the selectors. However, a section of the people stayed away from the game in solidarity with the black people of South Africa.⁶⁸

7th Pan-African Congress

In October 1988, Naiwu Osahon, the Nigerian Pan-Africanist, issued the “Call” for Africans to organize themselves into Pan-African organizations with a view of convening a 7th Pan-African Congress in a progressive African state. Many Pan-Africanists across the Caribbean heeded the Call, and created Pan-African Movements. Roosevelt Brown (Pauulu Kamarkafego) who played a major role in the Caribbean Steering Committee in organizing for the 6th Pan-African Congress was selected as the regional coordinator for the Americas.

A regional preparatory meeting was held in Barbados in 1991, with delegates from the: African Friendship Association of Dominica, the Pan-African Movement of St. Lucia, the All African People’s Revolutionary Party of St Croix, the Universal African Improvement Association of Trinidad and Tobago, the 7th Pan-African Congress Committee of Trinidad and Tobago and the Pan-African Movement of Barbados. The conference passed several resolutions namely: the removal of the United States embargo against Cuba, the commitment of the Pan-African Movement to a campaign against the forthcoming celebrations of the Columbus myth in 1992, to re-orient the Pan-African Movement around a non-elitist, mass based, grass roots philosophy and programme and the positive role of the Caribbean Rastafarian Movement as an integral part of the Pan-African struggle.⁶⁹ The conference supported the call for “repatriation of Africans desirous of returning to their racial motherland,” and the “right of all Africans to be paid reparations arising out of slavery.”⁷⁰

By the late 1990, the initiative to prepare for the Congress was taken from Oshanon and his Lagos group by the Kampala 7th Pan-African Congress initiative. Colonel Kahinda Otafire, a member of the National Resistance Army/Movement was able to secure the backing of the Uganda government to hold the conference. The conference took place in Uganda and the Caribbean was represented by governmental officials and Pan-Africanists like David Comissiong, Bobby Clarke, Rosie Douglas, Joycelynne Loncke and Felipe Noguera.

The Caribbean case for reparations

The demand for reparations, for Caribbean peoples, has been consistently championed by the Pan-African groups in the region. At the 1st Regional Planning meeting in Jamaica for the 6th Pan-African Congress in the Report on Repatriation and Reparations it was recommended:

- That the matter of Repatriation and Reparations be placed on the agenda of the 6th Pan-African Congress as an important question.
- That the 6th Pan-African Congress declare all Africans had the right to repatriate.
- That the question of repatriation be raised with all governments of Africa individually; and that it be raised collectively through the Organization of African Unity with the view to having them declare themselves favourably on this question.
- That a permanent secretariat be set up to deal with the matter of repatriation.
- That the permanent secretariat demand of the imperial powers reparations commensurate with the harm that has been done to Africans all over the world.⁷¹

The question of reparations was not taken up by the 6th Pan-African Congress. However, in the preparatory meetings for the 7th Pan-African Congress in 1991 resolutions were passed in support of reparations. In 1992 the Organization of African Unity selected a 12-member Group of Eminent Persons to pursue the goal of reparations for Africa. In 1993 the

first Pan-African conference on reparations was held in Abuja, Nigeria. The 7th Pan-African Congress resolution 13 on the Caribbean stated that “reparations for the African holocaust be paid with interest and that pressure be exerted on all quarters to ensure this.”⁷²

The Caribbean governments joined with the Pan-Africanists and sought to take the issue to another stage, the Jamaican government established a Task Force on Reparations in 2009. The issue of reparations for “Native Genocide and Slavery,” was examined at the 34th Regular Meeting of the Conference of Heads of CARICOM in July 2013 in Trinidad and Tobago. At this meeting Ralph Gonsalves, the Prime Minister of St Vincent and the Grenadines suggested that Caricom should “engage the United Kingdom and other formal colonial nations on the matter.” Between 2013 and 2014 most of the territories that are part of Caricom had set up Reparations Task Forces/Committees; “to document the effects of European genocide against the indigenous inhabitants of the region, the slave trade in and the enslavement of Africans, and colonization.”⁷³ The heads of these bodies are members of the Caricom Reparations Commission which was established in 2013 by the Caribbean Heads of Governments. This body was mandated to prepare the case for reparatory justice for the region’s indigenous and African descendant communities who are the victims of Crimes against Humanity in the forms of genocide, slavery, slave trading, and racial apartheid. The first Regional Reparations Conference was held in September 2013 in St Vincent and the Grenadines.

The Caribbean governments are seeking reparations from the governments of Britain, France, and Holland. The Caribbean Reparations Commission notes that the European governments: i) were owners and traders of enslaved Africans, ii) instructed genocidal actions upon indigenous communities, iii) created the legal, financial, and fiscal policies necessary for the enslavement of Africans, iv) defined and enforced African enslavement and native genocide as in their national interests v) refused compensation to the enslaved with the ending of their enslavement, vi) compensated slave owners at emancipation for the loss of legal property rights in enslaved Africans vi) imposed a further 100 years of racial apartheid upon the emancipated, vi) and have refused to acknowledge such crimes or to compensate victims and their descendants.⁷⁴

The Caricom Reparations Commission has presented the governments of Caricom with a ten point action plan that includes: i) full formal apology, ii) repatriation, iii) indigenous people’s development program, iv) cultural institutions, v) public health crisis, vi) illiteracy eradication, vii) African knowledge programs, viii) psychological rehabilitation, ix) technological transfers and x) debt cancellation.⁷⁵

Pan-Africanism in the Caribbean from the period of enslavement to the present moment has been concerned with improving the economic, social, and political condition of African descendants in the Caribbean and their brothers and sisters on the African continent and elsewhere in the world. The Pan-Africanists recognized the value of uniting and building solidarity as they struggle to realize a better world for their children than the one they found. Many of them made great sacrifices in trying to insure the creation of this world. There can be no doubt that the Caribbean Pan-Africanists made an invaluable contribution to Pan-Africanism.

Notes

1 Tony Martin, *The Pan-African Connection: From Slavery to Garvey and Beyond* (Dover: The Majority Press, 1983) vii.

2 Ibid, 4.

- 3 Edward Blyden, *Christianity, Islam and the Negro Race* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 1967), 116.
- 4 Hollis Lynch, *Black Spokesmen: Selected Writings of Edward Blyden* (London: Frank Cass, 1971), 28.
- 5 J. Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa 1900–1945: A Study in Ideology and Social Classes* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1973), 112.
- 6 Robert Campbell, *Pilgrimage to My Motherland: An Account of a Journey Among the Egbas and Yorubas of Central Africa in 1859–1860* (Beekmen: Thomas Hamilton, 1861), 144.
- 7 Tunde Adele, *UnAfrican Americans: Nineteenth – Century Black Nationalism Black Nationalists and the Civilizing Mission* (Lexington: The University of Kentucky Press, 1998), 68.
- 8 Tony Martin, *The Pan-African Connection*, 11.
- 9 Patrick Bryan, “Black Perspectives in Late Nineteenth – Century Jamaica: The Case of Theophilus Scholes,” in *Garvey: His Work and Impact* edited Rupert Lewis & Patrick Bryan (Kingston: Institute of Social and Economic Research & Department of Extra – Mural Studies, 1988), 51.
- 10 Ibid., 55.
- 11 Ibid., 56
- 12 Marika Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa and the African Diaspora* (New York: Routledge, 2011), 40.
- 13 George Padmore, *Pan-Africanism or Communism* (New York: Doubleday, 1971), 94–95.
- 14 Sherwood, 91.
- 15 Ibid., 123.
- 16 Kelvin Singh, *Race and Class Struggles in a Colonial State Trinidad 1917–1945*, (Kingston: University of the West Indies Press, 1994), 10.
- 17 Tony Martin, *Race First: The Ideological and Organizational Struggles of Marcus Garvey and the Universal Negro Improvement Association* (Dover: The Majority Press, 1976), 16.
- 18 Ibid., 113.
- 19 Ibid., 137.
- 20 W.F. Elkins, “Marcus Garvey, The Negro World And the British West Indies 1919–1920” in *Garvey, Africa, Europe, The Americas* edited by Rupert Lewis & Maureen Warner Lewis (Kingston: Institute of Social and Economic Research, University of the West Indies, 1986), 37–43.
- 21 Rodney Worrell, *Pan-Africanism in Barbados: An Analysis of the Activities of the Major Pan-African Formations in Barbados* (Washington: New Academia Publishing, 2002), 21. Tony Martin, *The Pan-African Connection*, 82.
- 22 Robert Hill, *Dread History: Leonard P. Howell and Millenarian Visions in the Early Rastafarian Religion* (Chicago: Research Associates School Times Publications, 2002), 5–6.
- 23 Horace Campbell, *Rasta and Resistance: From Marcus Garvey to Walter Rodney* (St. Johns: Hanib Publication, 1989), 211.
- 24 Rupert Lewis, “Jamaica Black Power in the 1960s,” in *Black Power in the Caribbean* edited by Kate Quinn (Gainesville: University of Florida Press, 2014), 57.
- 25 Campbell, *Rasta and Resistance*, 159. Frank Jan Van Dijk, “Chanting Down Babylon Outernational: The Rise of Rastafari in Europe, the Caribbean, and the Pacific,” in *The Rastafari Reader: Chanting Down Babylon* edited by Nathaniel Murrell, William Spencer & Adrian McFarlane (Kingston; Ian Randle Publishing, 1998), 189.
- 26 Campbell, *Rasta and Resistance*, 159.
- 27 Rhoda Reddock, *Elma Francois the NWCSA and the Workers’ Struggle for Change in the Caribbean* (London: New Beacon Books, 1988), 19.
- 28 Ibid., 20.
- 29 Robert Weisborg, “British West Indian Reaction to the Italian–Ethiopian War: An Episode in Pan-Africanism” *Caribbean Studies* Vol. 10, No. 1, 34.
- 30 CO318/421/5.
- 31 Weisborg, 35.
- 32 Ibid.
- 33 Barry Chevannes, *Rastafari: Roots and Ideology* (New York: Syracuse University Press, 1994), 133.
- 34 Weisborg, 38.
- 35 CO318/421/5.
- 36 Walter Rodney, *Groundings with my Brothers* (London: Bogle–L’Ouverture, 1975), 18.
- 37 Ibid. 28.

- 38 Rupert Lewis, "Jamaica Black Power in the 1960s," in *Black Power in the Caribbean* edited by Kate Quinn (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2014), 66–67.
- 39 James Millette, "Towards the Black Power Revolt of 1970," in *Black Power 1970: A Retrospective* edited by Selwyn Ryan, Taimoon Stewart (Port of Spain: Institute of Social and Economic Research, University of the West Indies, 1995), 59–60. (Also see Brinsley Samaroo, "The February Revolution (1970) as a Catalyst for Change in Trinidad and Tobago" in *Black Power in the Caribbean* edited by Kate Quinn (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2014), 101–102.
- 40 Quito Swan, "I Shot the Sheriff: Black Power and Decolonization in Bermuda" in *Black Power in the Caribbean* edited by Kate Quinn (Gainesville: University Press of Florida, 2014), 203.
- 41 Pauulu Kamarakafego, *Me One: The Autobiography of Pauulu Kamarakafego* (Hamilton: P.K. Publishing, 2002) 166–167.
- 42 Rodney Worrell, "The People's Progressive Movement and the Black Star Newspaper in Barbados: Their Ideology and Official Reaction to It," *Journal of Caribbean History*, Vol 47. 2 (2013) 234–235.
- 43 Ibid, 231.
- 44 Ibid, 233.
- 45 Ibid, 234.
- 46 Modibo Kadalie, *Internationalism, Pan-Africanism and the Struggle of Social Classes: Raw Writings from the Notebook of an Early Nineteen Seventies African-American Radical Activist* (Savannah: One Quest Press, 2000, 282–283.
- 47 Kamarakafego, 193.
- 48 Kadalie, 323–324.
- 49 Horace Campbell, *Pan-Africanism: The Struggle Against Imperialism and Neo-Colonialism, Documents of the Sixth Pan-African Congress* (Toronto, 1974), 155
- 50 W. Richard Jacobs & Ian Jacobs, *Grenada the Route to Revolution* (Havana: Casa de las Americas, 1980), 95.
- 51 Anthony Bogues, "We are an African People' Anti-Colonial internationalism and black internationalism: Caribbean and Africa solidarities," *Road to Democracy* Vol 5 2013, 144–145.
- 52 Rodney Worrell, *Pan-Africanism in Barbados*, 75. Also see Rodney Worrell, "Cricket and Pan-Africanist Protest in Barbados, 1966–1992," *Shibboleths*, 5 (2017–2018), 7.
- 53 The Southern African Liberation Committee, *Space Research Corporation: How a Trans-national Munitions Co. used a West Indies Government to Test Artillery Shells for the South African Armed Forces* (Bridgetown: SALC, 1981).
- 54 Bogues, 146.
- 55 "OAU Lauds Burnham," *Nation* 10 March 1981.
- 56 "BWU Wants Cricket Tour Cancelled," *Nation* 3 March 1981.
- 57 Rodney Worrell, "Cricket and Pan-Africanist Protest in Barbados, 1966–1992," 8.
- 58 Ibid, 9.
- 59 Ibid.
- 60 Tony Cozier, "The Robin Jackman Affair," in the *West Indies Cricket Annual*, edited by Tony Cozier (N.P.: Goodyear Gibbs, 1981), 10.
- 61 The Southern African Liberation Committee, *Sports and Apartheid: Caribbean Sports People and the Boycott of South Africa* (Bridgetown: SALC Publication, 1983), 22.
- 62 Jon Gemmel, *The Politics of South African Cricket* (London: Routledge, 2004), 123.
- 63 "Group raps SA Tour," *Advocate*, 13 January 1983.
- 64 Tony Cozier, "South African Tour Controversy" in the *West Indies Cricket Annual*, edited by Tony Cozier (Walton-on-Thames: Caribbean Communications, 1983), 12.
- 65 Rodney Worrell, "Cricket and Pan-Africanist Protest in Barbados, 1966–1992," Ibid. 10.
- 66 Tony Cozier, "South African Connection: The latest Crisis" in *West Indies Cricket Annual* edited by Tony Cozier (Bridgetown: Literary Features, 1986), 17.
- 67 Ibid. 18–21.
- 68 Worrell, "Cricket and Pan-Africanist Protest in Barbados, 1966–1992," 14–15.
- 69 Ikael Tafari, "Pan-African Organizations Meet," *Caribbean Contact*, Vol 18, 8 September/October 1991.
- 70 Ibid.
- 71 Kadalie, 298.
- 72 Resolutions of the Plenary of the 7th Pan-African Congress, Kampala, 1994, *African Journal of Political Science New Series* Vol. 1 No. 1 (June 1996), 122.

- 73 Ralph Gonsalves, *The Case for Caribbean Reparatory Justice: Four Essays* (Kingston: Strategy Forum, 2014), 8.
- 74 Caricom TEN Point Plan for Reparatory Justice, <https://www.caricom.org/caricom-ten-point-plan-for-reparatory-justice>.
- 75 Ibid.

Pan-Africanism and the African diaspora in Europe¹

Michael McEachrane

What does Pan-Africanism mean to Europe? Pan-Africanism is rarely conceptualized as part of European histories and realities. Although the first Pan-African conferences took place in Europe, were led by African descendants residing in Europe and focused on combating European colonialism and racism. This chapter outlines the philosophy of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 and situates Pan-Africanism in a European context. It presents Pan-Africanism as part of European history and realities and as a conceptual framework for the African diaspora in Europe. It calls for reframing European histories and realities in ways that are neither racially exclusive nor nationalistic. In a context of a growing presence of people of African and other non-European descent, contestations over nationhood and widespread denials of the relevance of race as well as the histories and lasting consequences of European colonialism—the philosophy and history of Pan-Africanism in Europe is all the more relevant.

This chapter begins with a reflection on the meanings and definitions of Pan-Africanism as a term, philosophy and movement. The second section outlines the defining philosophy of the early Pan-African conferences in Europe 1900–1945. The third section elaborates on the defining features of Pan-Africanism as expressed by the activities of these conferences and points to ways in which they are a part of European history. Whereas the fourth and final section reflects on the relevance of Pan-Africanism to conceptualizing a racially inclusive history and the African diaspora in Europe.

On the meaning of Pan-Africanism

What is the meaning of “Pan-Africanism”? There have been many proposals for what should and should not be labelled Pan-Africanism and why.² For example, in British political scientist William B. Ackah’s self-professed crude definition, it is a movement by Africans for Africans—including continental Africans and people of African descent in the diaspora—in response to European ideas of superiority and acts of imperialism.³ Whatever definition one may use, as British historian Hakim Adi points out, most writers would agree that Pan-Africanism is a phenomenon that emerged in the modern period and is concerned with the social, economic, cultural and political emancipation of “African peoples, including those of

the African diaspora.”⁴ Underlying its manifold expressions is a belief in the unity, common history and purpose of Africans and people of African descent and the notion that their destinies are interconnected.⁵ This includes the early European conferences in London, Paris, Brussels, Lisbon and Manchester 1900, 1919, 1921, 1923 and 1945.⁶ It also includes, for instance, the British abolitionist organization Sons of Africa—founded in London in the 1780s by Olaudah Equiano (1745–1797) and Ottobah Cugoana (1757–1791)—as well as the Haitian Revolution of 1791, the creation of an independent Haiti in 1804 and its Constitution—which established the country as a safe-haven for all people of African descent.⁷

While not aspiring to give a universal definition of Pan-Africanism—this chapter seeks to sift out the core, defining features of the Pan-Africanism of the European conferences 1900–1945. This is mainly done by examining the avowed objectives, themes, statements, resolutions, petitions and other activities of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945. As canonical as these conferences may be, the Pan-Africanism that typifies them should not—contrary to what British historian George Shepperson has argued—be seen as capital “P” Pan-Africanism in contrast to other allegedly small “p” pan-Africanism of e.g. Marcus (1887–1940) and Amy Ashwood Garvey’s (1897–1969) Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA).⁸ Rather, the characteristic Pan-Africanism of the early European conferences is merely a possible version among others. As a broad working definition, it indeed seems fair, as Hakim Adi does, to describe Pan-Africanism as a phenomenon that emerged in the modern period; concerned with the social, economic, cultural and political emancipation of Africans and people of African descent; with underlying beliefs in their unity, common history, purpose and interconnected destiny. However, it remains to be fleshed out what the nature is of this unity, common history, purpose and interconnected destiny; and why Africans and people of African descent have a shared interest in emancipation. Answering these questions will help us spell out a philosophy of Pan-Africanism—what it is or may be; how to understand it; why and how it is justified; as well as why and how it is socially, culturally, economically and politically relevant. It will also push us to grapple with such philosophically loaded questions as whether Pan-Africanism presumes that Africans and people of African descent *by nature* share a common character, culture, history and destiny or if and how it, at all, is founded on “race.”⁹

On the philosophy of Pan-Africanism

This chapter argues that the Pan-Africanism of the early European conferences may be summed-up by six core tenets, premises or features:¹⁰

1. ***Pan-Africanism as racial affinity***—*Africans and people of African descent around the world share common origins in Africa and similar physical features.* This fact is the first foundation of the Pan-Africanism of the European conferences 1900–1945. However, this foundational recognition of “race” and mutual affinity of continental origins and similar physical features did not depend on “racialist” presumptions of shared innate mental or cultural characteristics.¹¹ Of course, there was a recognition that Africans and people of African descent were *subject* to such assumptions—which came with the package of white supremacy, anti-African/Black racism and oppression. Still, it seems clear from the activities of the early conferences that the meanings they ascribed to shared physical appearances and continental origins had more to do with shared circumstances than innate qualities. Even when the ascribed meanings included a sense of cultural unity—say, a sense of cultural loss of the African diaspora as well as survival of its cultural ties

to the African continent—more often than not these meanings were expressed in circumstantial terms. It was the sort of “racial” affinity that one of the principal architects of the early conferences, W.E.B. DuBois (1868–1963), expressed in an oft-cited passage from his autobiography, *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay Toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept* (1940). The concept of race had at this time undergone so much change and contradiction that as he faced Africa he asked himself:

what is it between us that constitutes a tie which I can feel better than I can explain? Africa is, of course, my fatherland. Yet neither my father nor my father’s father ever saw Africa or knew its meaning or cared overmuch for it. My mother’s folk were closer and yet their direct connection, in culture and race, became tenuous; still, my tie to Africa is strong. On this vast continent were born and lived a large portion of my direct ancestors going back a thousand years or more. The mark of their heritage is upon me in color and hair. These are obvious things, but of little meaning in themselves; only important as they stand for real and more subtle differences from other men. Whether they do or not, I do not know nor does science know today.¹²

However,

the physical bond is least and the badge of color relatively unimportant save as a badge; the real essence of this kinship is its social heritage of slavery; the discrimination and insult; and this heritage binds together not simply the children of Africa, but extends through yellow Asia and into the South Seas. It is this unity that draws me to Africa.¹³

2. ***Pan-Africanism as shared conditions***—*Africans and people of African descent around the world share similar conditions or circumstances as “Black”/Africans/people of African descent.* It was elemental to the sense of unity, common history, purpose, interconnected destiny and interest in emancipation of the early conferences that Africans and people of African descent find themselves in a world where their similar physical features and continental origins are racialized, take on similar meanings and result in similar positions of subordination and disempowerment. Although this was not the only basis of Pan-African unity, it was an essential one.
3. ***Pan-Africanism as collective interests***—*Africans and people of African descent around the world have shared interests as a group in being liberated from joint or overlapping conditions of discrimination and subordination and thus to work together towards collective empowerment and emancipation.* The Pan-Africanism of the early conferences centred on the collective liberation and flourishing of Africans and people of African descent. This focus on a broad collective rather than individual, ethnic or narrowly nationalistic liberation and flourishing—was primarily, albeit not exclusively, due to an understanding of having largely shared or overlapping conditions as a group. The similar positions of subordination and disempowerment of Africans and people of African descent around the world as a collective meant that they had shared interests to work together, become empowered and emancipated as a collective.
4. ***Pan-Africanism as a structural view***—*The racism, discrimination and oppression facing Africans and people of African descent around the world as a collective are primarily “structural” and have international as well as national dimensions.* The Pan-Africanism of the early conferences 1900–1945 was based on an understanding of the racism, discrimination and oppression facing Africans and people of African descent as due to a racially stratified

world ordering of political, legal, economic, social and cultural affairs—which placed them in similar positions of subordination and disempowerment. For example, politically, Africans and people of African descent lacked self-determination and equal rights; legally, they were unequal before the law with a segregated and inferior standing compared to white Europeans; economically, their labour and natural resources were exploited to the benefit of white Europeans; socially, Africans and people of African descent were accorded lower statuses than whites; culturally, indigenous African cultures were being suppressed while notions of the superiority of white Europeans and the inferiority of Africans and people of African descent permeated European cultures. This racialized ordering had both national and international dimensions. At the international level, there were fundamental political, economic and other inequities between, for instance, European colonial states and colonized African countries or African descendant majority countries in the Caribbean. This sort of multidimensional “structural” or “systemic” understanding of white supremacy and the subordination of Africans and people of African descent was elemental to the Pan-Africanism of the early European conferences.¹⁴ Hence, one will find in their records and activities a wide range of subjects across political, legal, economic, social, cultural, national and international spheres—be it, for instance, unequal rights, racial segregation, colonization or economic exploitation.

5. ***Pan-Africanism as decolonial***—*The practices, relations of power, institutions and worldviews of European colonialism (and imperialism) is the primary culprit of the “structural racism” facing Africans and people of African descent around the world. Hence, it is elemental to Pan-Africanism to promote processes of decolonization and liberation from colonialism (and imperialism).* The Pan-Africanism of the European conferences was based on an understanding that it above all was the histories, practices, worldviews, national and international organization of European colonialism (and imperialism) that established white supremacy as a rule—including, the discrimination against, enslavement, exploitation and other suppression of Africans and people of African descent. Hence, anti-colonialism and decolonization was at the heart of the Pan-Africanism of these conferences.
6. ***Pan-Africanism as political***—*The conditions of Africans and people of African descent of “structural racism,” colonial (and imperial) practices, embedded relations of power, institutions, views and their consequences are largely political problems. That is, they fall within the ambit of political concepts, responsibilities and decision-making. Therefore, the framework and objectives of Pan-Africanism need to be largely political.* Characteristically, the objectives of the early conferences were framed in such political terms as justice, equality, rights, self-determination and sovereignty. The resolutions, manifestos and declarations of the conferences were framed in such political terms and addressed states, international communities of states, the League of Nations and the budding United Nations. They mostly concerned issues that belonged to the responsibility of states, policy- and law-making—such as racial segregation, colonization and economic exploitation. For example, George Padmore (1903–1959)—who coorganized the Fifth Congress in Manchester 1945—described Pan-Africanism in such terms as seeking to attain “the government of Africans by Africans for Africans, with respect for racial and religious minorities who desire to live in Africa on a basis of equality with the black majority”; and that it “subscribes to the fundamental objectives of Democratic Socialism (...), stands for the liberty of the subject within the law and endorses the [Universal] Declaration of Human Rights, with emphasis upon the Four Freedoms.”¹⁵

These six core features of Pan-Africanism—as *racial affinity*, *shared conditions*, *collective interests*, *a structural view*, *decolonial* and *political*—will help us describe and understand the nature, rationale and activities of the early Pan-African conferences and their relevance to Europe.

The Pan-African conferences in Europe

Where these six core features were not explicitly expressed in the activities of the early conferences, generally they were implicitly presumed by them. All the six core features are expressed already in the first Pan-African Conference in Westminster Town Hall in London 22–24 July 1900. It was called by the Trinidadian-born London-resident and law student Henry Sylvester Williams (1869–1911) to be attended “by those of African descent from all parts of the British Empire, the United States of America, Abyssinia, Liberia, Hayti, etc.” to “protest stealing of lands in the colonies, racial discrimination and other issues of interest to Blacks.”¹⁶ Here we find alluded to a recognition of the racial affinity, shared conditions, collective interests, structural view and decolonial aspirations of Pan-Africanism as outlined earlier. It should be noted that the Pan-African collectivism called on here (as elsewhere) need not—and as a general call did not—hinge on a meaning or understanding of “Africans,” “African descendants” or “Blacks” as having innate psychological or cultural qualities in common.

Likewise, the thematic program of the conference, “Programme of Subjects for Discussion,” is premised on the six core features.¹⁷ For example, the first item on the program asks what conditions of home environment, education, labour, leadership and esprit de corps would favour the development of a high standard of African humanity. Here we find assumed, a racial affinity and collective interests of Africans and people of African descent. All the other items on the program also presume this. In addition, they presume a recognition of shared conditions, structural racism and the impact of European colonialism on Africans and people of African descent. For instance, the second item speaks of the “cruelty of civilized Paganism of which the Race are the victims”—“Entailed by Slavery,” “Perpetuated under freedom” and “Supported by social, political and professional exclusiveness.” The fourth item addresses unsolved problems and impediments of “Africa, the Sphinx of history”—including, “The selfish and sordid ends to which it is prostituted,” “A policy exclusively commercial unfavourable to the development of character in every race” and “[t]he consequent treatment of natives as tools instead of men, in the West Indies and America equally as in Africa.” Similarly, the sixth and final item states that, “Organized plunder *versus* human progress has made our race its battlefield” and that “Europeans and others [have] enriched [themselves] at the cost of Africa.” It also calls out the absence of endowments “to benefit the natives of Africa a crying shame”—whereas the previous fifth item declares that, “Europe’s Atonement for wrongs is the loud demand of Africa.”¹⁸

Perhaps nowhere else in the first conference in London were the framing six features of its Pan-Africanism more vividly expressed than in its keynote speech, “Address to the Nations of the World.” Its opening lines have since become canonical:

In the metropolis of the modern world, in this the closing year of the nineteenth century, there has been assembled a congress of men and women of African blood, to deliberate solemnly upon the present situation and outlook of the darker races of mankind. The problem of the twentieth century is the problem of the color line, the question as to how far differences of race—which show themselves chiefly in the color of the skin and the texture of the hair—will hereafter be made the basis of denying to

over half the world the right of sharing to utmost ability the opportunities and privileges of modern civilization.¹⁹

Here and in the rest of the speech we find a sweeping panoramic view of a racial affinity and collectivism chiefly based on “the color of the skin and texture of the hair,” shared or overlapping circumstances, structural racism and disenfranchisement facing Africans and people of African descent around the world. The speech had been prepared by a conference organizing sub-committee—chaired by W.E.B. DuBois—in which it also was decided that the address be sent to “the sovereigns in whose realms are subjects of African descent.”²⁰ What stands out in this speech and the early European conferences is a structural view of the racial stratification and exploitation as primarily due to the national and international orderings of colonialism and that these circumstances need to be framed and addressed politically. This structural, decolonial and political view became successively accentuated from the 1900 conference in London until the 1945 conference in Manchester.²¹ “[I]f by reason of carelessness, prejudice, greed and injustice, the black world is to be exploited and ravished and degraded,” Address to the Nations of the World admonishes, “the results must be deplorable, if not fatal—not simply to them, but to the high ideals of justice, freedom and culture which a thousand years of Christian civilization have held before Europe.”²² The address encouraged that “the black subjects of all nations take courage, strive ceaselessly, and fight bravely, that they may prove to the world their incontestable right to be counted among the great brotherhood of mankind;” and ended with an appeal to “the Great Powers of the civilized world, trusting in the wide spirit of humanity, and the deep sense of justice of our age, for a generous recognition of the righteousness of our cause.”²³

Although it would take another 18 years until a second conference—the so-called First Pan-African Congress—took place in Paris 1919, the Pan-African Conference in London 1900 set the ideological tenor for subsequent conferences.²⁴ A succession of Pan-African Congresses were held in Paris, London, Brussels and Lisbon in 1919, 1921 and 1923. A fourth one was held in New York City in 1927. They were all organized by W.E.B. DuBois in collaboration with Paris-based African American Ida Gibbs-Hunt (1862–1957), Senegalese deputy to the French Assembly Blaise Diagne (1875–1935) and others.²⁵

The First Pan-African Congress took place in Paris during the 1919 Paris Peace Conference and the closing of World War I. The allied and associated forces met in Paris during the spring to draft a “peace of justice” for the peoples of Europe to live together in friendship and equality. The result was the Treaty of Versailles—signed 28 June 1919—in which the victorious allies held Germany responsible for the war and sought justice by demanding reparations.²⁶ On the agenda of the Peace Conference was what to do with Germany’s African colonies. Two years earlier, as France had conquered Germany’s central and east African colonies with the help of African troops, DuBois wrote in the political magazine *The Survey*:

It would be the least that Europe could do in return and some faint reparation for the terrible world history between 1441 and 1861 to see that a great free central African state is erected out of German East Africa and the Belgian Congo.²⁷

The reapportionment of Germany’s African colonies after the war sparked a new Pan-African movement.²⁸ DuBois was appointed by the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People (NAACP) to attend the Peace Conference to collect information on the contributions to the war of Black troops. As native Africans had no voice at the Conference, he was determined to use the opportunity to assemble a Pan-African Congress to

serve the interests of Africans and people of African descent.²⁹ France being under martial law, the Congress needed the consent of the French Government. Despite opposition from the US and England, it was consented by the French Prime Minister, Georges Clemenceau (1841–1929). Mostly, thanks to the advocacy of Senegalese Deputy to the French Assembly and Commissioner-General of Colonial Affairs in the French cabinet, Blaise Diagne, in addition to some acknowledgement of the hundreds of thousands of Senegalese men who had fought for France during the war.³⁰ After having arrived in Paris on 11 December 1918, in little more than two months DuBois—together with Ida Gibbs-Hunt, Diagne and others—managed to organize a First Pan-African Congress of 57 delegates from across Africa and its diaspora at the Grand Hôtel, Boulevard des Capucines, 19–21 February 1919. France was represented by the Chairman of the Committee of Foreign Affairs of the French Chamber, Belgium by a member of the Belgian Peace Commission and Portugal by a former Minister of Foreign Affairs.³¹

To understand the rationale of the First Pan-African Congress in Paris, we need to bear in mind its philosophy of racial affinity, shared conditions, interests, etc. DuBois and his co-organizers treated the Paris Peace Conference as an opportunity to assemble a Pan-African Congress and raise Pan-African issues more generally beyond the reapportionment of Germany's colonies in Africa. In line with its Pan-African philosophy, this issue of the reapportionment of the German colonies was understood as an instantiation of broader structural problems of colonialism, exploitation, racial discrimination and subordination of Africans, people of African descent and other people of color. It was from this perspective that DuBois, in a memorandum to Blaise Diagne and others on January 1 1919, declared that among the chief objectives of the Congress would be to obtain statements on the conditions of, and make policy recommendations for, Africans and people of African descent throughout the world. Moreover, the Congress would make strong representations of the 250 million Africans and people of African descent around the world without a voice at the Peace Conference and the newly established League of Nations in Geneva. Additionally, it would lay before these assemblies principles for the future development of the race. Including, equal political rights, universal education, native rights to the land and natural resources, industrial development primarily for the benefit of the natives and the development of autonomous native governments towards “an Africa for the Africans.”³² Still, given that the concrete issue at hand at the Peace Conference was the future of Germany's African colonies and Africa more generally—it was only natural that the Congress primarily focus on Africa.³³ Moreover, as DuBois put it, Africa was central to Pan-Africanism as “a racial fount” and since an amelioration of the lot of Africa likely would ameliorate the conditions of people of African descent throughout the world.³⁴

Regarding the relationship of European states to Africa, Africans and people of African descent, DuBois was clear. What Europe wanted in Africa was “not a field for the spread of European civilization, but a field for exploitation.”³⁵ It was the raw materials of Africa—ivory, diamonds, copper, rubber, etc.—and cheap native labor to mine and produce these things that Europe coveted (for its own wealth and power).³⁶ In the Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress, “To the World,” DuBois called this exploitative relationship “the crux of the matter.”³⁷ Meaning that it was out of the racially divided economic exploitation of European colonialism that a vast racial ordering/structuring of social and international relations had developed. This genealogical understanding of the relationship between economic exploitation and structural racism anticipated later conceptualizations of “racial capitalism.”³⁸ The Manifesto assessed the basic maladjustment of the great modern problem as “the outrageously unjust distribution of world income between the dominant

and suppressed peoples (...) the rape of land and raw material, and monopoly of technique and culture.”³⁹

It was against this background of a basic maladjustment and systemic/structural racial discrimination established by European colonialism, that the Pan-African Congresses put forth their resolutions. In the resolutions passed by the First Congress and presented to the Paris Peace Conference, we find most of the themes of the resolutions of later Congresses:⁴⁰

- Equal rights irrespective of race or color and economic and social justice according to ability and desert;
- The establishment of labor laws for the international protection of Africans (and that the League of Nations establish a permanent Bureau to oversee this);
- That native land and natural resources be under the ownership of the natives;
- That the investment of capital and granting of concessions be so regulated as to prevent the exploitation of natives and the exhaustion of the natural wealth of their countries;
- That every native child shall have the right to education in their own language;
- That no particular religion or culture be imposed on the natives and that they shall have freedom of conscience;
- That Africans must have the right to participate in government in conformity with the principle that the government exists for the natives (and not the natives for the government).⁴¹

The resolutions of the early conferences 1900–1945 on self-determination over land and other natural resources, a globally equal division and protection of labor and a new international economic order with an equitable distribution of resources—as the Fourth Pan-African Congress put it, a “reorganization of commerce and industry so as to make the main object of capital and labor the welfare of the many rather than the enriching of the few”⁴²—anticipated later international decolonial movements and interventions that in many ways remain relevant still today (including the resolutions of the 6th Pan-African Congress in Dar-es-Salaam 1974).⁴³ For instance, state and peoples’ sovereignty and self-determination over their natural resources was essential to the UN *Declaration on the Establishment of a New International Economic Order* (NIEO)—that newly independent states pushed through the General Assembly in 1974.⁴⁴ This Declaration asserted, among other things, the full “permanent sovereignty of every State over its natural resources” and the

right of the developing countries and the peoples of territories under colonial and racial domination and foreign occupation to achieve their liberation and to regain effective control over their natural resources and economic activities.⁴⁵

By the 1980s the NIEO had been displaced by the interests of the “First World.”⁴⁶ Nonetheless, this theme of sovereignty and self-determination was picked up again by the Organization of African Unity—a predecessor to the African Union, founded on Pan-Africanism—in its *African Charter on Human and Peoples’ Rights* (1981): “All peoples shall freely dispose of their wealth and natural resources,” this right “shall be exercised in the exclusive interest of the people” and State Parties to the Charter “shall undertake to eliminate all forms of foreign economic exploitation (...) so as to enable their peoples to fully benefit from the advantages derived from their national resources.”⁴⁷

Overall, the calls and resolutions of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 were meaningful in a political context and grammar of equality, rights, non-discrimination, self-

determination, sovereignty and justice. The emphasis of the conferences on equality and non-discrimination preceded later elaborations by the United Nations of universal human rights.⁴⁸ Ultimately, the moral-political force and justification of the conferences laid in their explicit and implicit appeals to concepts of human, moral and political equality. In the words of the opening sentence of the Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress, “The absolute equality of races—physical, political and social—is the founding stone of world peace and human advancement.”⁴⁹ The rise of all human beings the Manifesto describes as “the highest human ideal.”⁵⁰ In our world, our likenesses as humans far outweigh our differences, we “mutually need each other in labor and thought and dream,” can “successfully have each other only on terms of equality, justice and mutual respect”—whereas those are “the real and only peacemakers who work sincerely and peacefully to this end.”⁵¹

Naturally, the Pan-African conferences were political in their address as well as their objectives. The structural racial discrimination, injustices and inequities facing Africans and people of African descent throughout the world mostly concerned the social and international organization of societies—including, societal institutions, laws, regulations and so on—which fell within the ambit of political responsibilities and decision-making.

As a matter of political strategy and relevance, the Pan-African Congresses 1919–1923 especially sought out the League of Nations—which was established during the Peace Conference 1919. In an editorial for the *Crisis* in May 1919, DuBois wrote that the League was necessary to the salvation of the race. Unless Africans and people of African descent had some “super-national power” to curb anti-Black policies at the national levels, they were doomed to fight for their rights internationally and the League held great promise in this regard.⁵²

The Fifth Pan-African Congress in Manchester 15–21 October 1945—a month after the end of WWII and a few days before the establishment of the UN—marked a culmination of the philosophy of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945.⁵³ The core-philosophy of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 was clearly expressed in the statutes of the Pan-African Federation (PAF) behind the Fifth Congress. That is, to promote the well-being and unity of Africans and people of African descent throughout the world; demand self-determination and independence of African peoples and other subject races; secure equal rights and the abolition of all forms of racial discrimination and seek cooperation among African peoples and others who shared their aspirations.⁵⁴ However, the resolutions that were passed by the Fifth Congress exclusively focused on Africa. These included, “the complete and absolute independence for the Peoples of West Africa,” “the removal of British forces from Egypt” and “the withdrawal of the British Military Administration from Ethiopian soil.”⁵⁵

Although the Fifth Pan-African Congress became a starting-point for several independence movements in Africa and the founding of international African organizations such as the Organization of African Unity (OAU)—which in 2002 was replaced by the African Union (AU)—after 1945 the core-philosophy of the Pan-African Congresses 1900–1945 lost its political force. Pan-Africanism took a “continental turn” and went from being race-based and broadly internationalist to mostly an internal African affair.⁵⁶ The previous decolonial focus was perhaps less relevant or at least not as obvious once African states had become formally independent. Less pronounced was the need for (universal) equality, non-discrimination, freedom, self-determination and justice. More pronounced the interests and politics of the nation-state. Furthermore, the earlier focus on race was complicated by a situation where the ruling political and economic elites of (formally) independent African states were suppressing the interests of their own people; often while serving foreign interests. The Sixth Pan-African Conference in Dar-es-Salaam 1974 became a struggle between

those who favored a strictly class-based analysis of Africa's problems and those who favored a race-based analysis. It also struggled with trying to come to terms with how the diaspora was relevant to the new Africa.⁵⁷

In conclusion—history and the African diaspora in Europe

The philosophy and history of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 may act as a corrective to Eurocentric and nationalist historiographies as well as help situate the African diaspora in Europe. The world of the early Pan-African conferences was one of European colonialism. Either directly or indirectly by being derivatives of it—such as the USA, Brazil or South Africa. The Europe of the early conferences is one of which Africans, people of African descent and other people of color have long been a part. Albeit as exploited, discarded and discriminated. As subjects, residents and citizens—albeit never full and equal citizens—of European nation-states and extended colonial states. Intertwined with the political, legal, economic, social and cultural formations of European nation-states and empires.

For a Europe that aspires to racial inclusion, equality and justice—the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 may hold a mirror to its history of racial distinctions, discrimination, exploitation and evasion. They may help us shift away from European histories told from the exclusive perspective of folk-nationalisms and white people to ones that include the lives, narratives, subject-positions and dignity of Africans and people of African descent. They may at once place people of color as subjects and actors of European history and Europe in a more equitable and fair global history.⁵⁸

In African Diaspora and African/Black European Studies, the core-philosophy of the conferences may help situate the African diaspora in Europe. What does it mean to be African/Black European? Do people of African descent in Italy, the Netherlands and Sweden have anything in common? How do we conceptualize “Afro-” or “African Swedes” when they tend to have a first- or second-generation immigrant background in Africa—mostly the Horn of Africa—without a joint ethnic, cultural or historical identity? Here we may draw from the philosophy of the Pan-African conferences 1900–1945 that put an emphasis on joint or overlapping racialized circumstances and positions as Black rather than any presumed racial or cultural identity.⁵⁹ Such Pan-African philosophy may act as a general conceptual and analytical framework for what it means to be Black in Europe and how being Black here is interconnected with being Black elsewhere. It may also point to ways in which the positionalities of Black people in Europe and elsewhere are inherently political. Here it will be critical that we apply a framework that is at once Pan-African and intersectional and includes e.g. gender, sexuality, class, migration, residency, nationality, ethnicity, culture and religion to the positionalities and politics of being Black in Europe.⁶⁰

Such a framework may act as an alternative to the current culturalist and identity-centered paradigm of African Diaspora and Black Studies.⁶¹ It could help decentralize—albeit not exclude—the relevance of culture and identity to situating people of African descent in Europe and elsewhere in the diaspora.⁶² It could contribute to situating the African diaspora in Europe by:

- i. Pointing out what its common denominators are;
- ii. Providing an analytical framework for...
 - a. Locating its joint or overlapping circumstances and conditions in Europe;

- b. Indicating why and how these need to be understood as “structural” with national and international dimensions;
- c. Why and how these are inherently political;
- d. How it is relevant and justified to speak of people of African descent in Europe—or at the national levels, say, African/Afro-/Black Swedes, French or Dutch—as a collective, with shared interests, in need of political recognition, with joint or overlapping collective histories, situations and destinies;
- e. How—in the broadest and most inclusive manner—the African diaspora in Europe is interconnected with Africans and people of African descent elsewhere.

When identity and culture enters back into this picture—as they sometimes should—it will not be as an analytical framework or common denominator for outlining, establishing or contextualizing the African diaspora in Europe as a cohesive category. Rather the racial and cultural identifications of people of African descent in Europe *as* people of African descent/Black/African—where and to the extent that such identifications are relevant—will be understood within an analytical framework as embedded in shared racial affinities, conditions, collective interests, national and international structures, histories and legacies of European colonialism. Moreover, within a framework that conceptualizes them politically as matters of human dignity, equality, liberation, justice and so forth. For instance, as DuBois put it in an editorial in the *Crisis* February 1919, cultures that are indigenous to a people must have free scope if there is to be such a thing as freedom for the world. For who shall say that any civilization in itself is so superior that it must be superimposed upon other people without their free consent.⁶³ Or in the words of the Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress 1921, Africans and people of African descent should have freedom of religion and culture “with the right to be different and non-conformist.”⁶⁴

Notes

- 1 I would like to thank Teju Adisa-Farrar for her helpful comments on an earlier draft of this chapter. Thanks also to the audiences for the stimulating discussions following presentations of earlier versions of the chapter at the *Advanced Study Group Moves towards an Anticolonial Academy: Exploring Post- and Decolonial Epistemic Options* at Lund University, Sweden, 18 February 2019, as well the *Afro-European Studies Conference 2019. 7th Biennial Network Conference: “AfroEuropeans: Black In/Visibilities Contested,”* ISCTE—University Institute of Lisbon, Portugal, 4–6 July 2019.
- 2 P. Olanwuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*. Second Edition (Washington: Howard University Press, 1994), 3–8.
- 3 William B. Ackah, *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions: Politics, Identity and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999), 12.
- 4 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London, New York, Oxford, New Delhi, Sydney: Bloomsbury Academic), 2.
- 5 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 2.
- 6 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 46–57 and 122–127.
- 7 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 7–9.
- 8 George Shepperson, “Pan-Africanism and ‘Pan-Africanism’: Some Historical Notes,” *Phylon* (1960-), Vol 23, No 4 (1962): 346–358.
- 9 For example, Kwame Anthony Appiah reduces the philosophy of Pan-Africanism to beliefs in “racialism” and shared racial characteristics. Cf. K. Anthony Appiah, *In My Father’s House: Africa in the Philosophy of Culture* (Oxford, New York and Toronto: Oxford University Press, 1992); K. Anthony Appiah, “Pan-Africanism,” in *Africana: The Encyclopedia of the African and African American Experience. Second Edition*, eds., K. Anthony Appiah and Henry Louis Gates (Oxford and Toronto: Oxford University Press, 2005), 325–328.

- 10 In a similar fashion, Anthony Bogues speaks of three core political ideas that dominate Pan-Africanist political discourse:
(a) The objective fact of the colonial and imperialist exploitation and domination of Africa and that this domination must end; (b) the idea that Africans and people of African descent share a common destiny; and (c) the political freedom of the African continent. (Anthony Bogues, "C.L.R. James, Pan-Africanism and the Black Radical Tradition," *Critical Arts: South-North Cultural and Media Studies*, Vol 25, No 4 (2011): 486)
Although Bogues nails three core ideas of Pan-Africanism, they are too narrow, inconclusive and, at least in the case of (b), undefined. Although (a) is true, it is not merely in Africa that colonial and imperialist domination must end and where, as in (c), political freedom be achieved—but, for example, in the Caribbean too. And, it is not merely colonial and imperial domination that must end, but racial oppression and discrimination against Africans and people of African descent more generally. It is true that, as in (b), according to Pan-Africanism, Africans and people of African descent share a common destiny. However, in what sense?
- 11 For an elaboration of the political relevance of "race" as a category without racialist presuppositions, cf e.g. Michael McEachrane, "Universal Human Rights and the Coloniality of Race in Sweden," *Human Rights Review*, Vol 19, Issue 4 (2018): 471–493.
- 12 (DuBois, 2007, p. 59)
- 13 Ibid.
- 14 Cf. e.g. Charles W Mills, "White Supremacy as a Sociopolitical System," in Mills, *From Class to Race: Essays in White Marxism and Black Radicalism* (Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003): 177–194; and, "Racial Exploitation," in Mills, *Black Rights/White Wrongs: The Critique of Racial Liberalism* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2017): 113–135.
- 15 George Padmore, *Pan-Africanism or Communism* (Garden City, New York: Anchor Books), xix.
- 16 Marika Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa and the African Diaspora* (New York and Abingdon: Routledge, 2011), 72; Tajudeen Abdul-Raheem, ed., *Pan-Africanism: Politics, Economy and Social Change in the Twenty-First Century* (New York: New York University Press, 1996), 2.
- 17 Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 77.
- 18 Ibid.
- 19 W.E.B. Du Bois, Alexander Walters, Henry B. Brown and H. Sylvester Williams, "To the Nations of the World, ca 1900," *W.E.B. DuBois Papers*, <http://credo.library.umass.edu/view/full/mums312-b004-i321> (accessed May 3, 2019).
- 20 Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 92.
- 21 Cf Padmore; Adekunle Ajala, *Pan-Africanism: Evolution, Progress and Prospects* (London: André Deutsch Limited, 1973)
- 22 DuBois, Walters, Brown and Williams.
- 23 Ibid. The decolonial and political objectives of the first Pan-African conference were already part of the African Association, founded by Henry Sylvester Williams in London 1897. The the Nigerian newspaper the *Lagos Standard* reported on the founding of the African Association in 1897 that it was thought that "the time had come when the voice of Black men should be heard independently in their own affairs and that this could best be achieved by an organization of this kind, having its headquarters in London, the seat of Government." This since "the Imperial Parliament is supreme in the Empire" and "by sufficient legislation the eyesores of the Empire can be remedied." Therefore, "the Association thinks British public opinion is a prime force in this matter, and solicits its power, whereby Members of Parliament could be instructed that the better treatment of Native Races should command greater attention in Parliament" (Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 38–39). In its "Aims and Objectives," printed in the *Anti-slavery Reporter* the following year, the Association expressed itself as "deeply sensible of the absence of any body of Africans in England representing Native opinion in national matters affecting the destiny of the African Race..." (Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 38–39). Its objectives were clearly premised on a Pan-African sense of racial affinity, shared conditions, collective, decolonial and political interests, "To encourage a feeling of unity to facilitate friendly intercourse among Africans in general," and also to promote and protect the interests of all subjects claiming African descent, wholly or in part, in British Colonies and other places, especially in Africa, by circulating accurate information on all subjects affecting their rights and privileges as subjects of the British Empire, by direct appeals to the Imperial and Local Governments. (Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 40)

During the 1900 Conference, the African Association was transformed into the Pan-African Association with headquarters at 61–62 Chancery Lane in London. Henry Sylvester Williams was its General Secretary and among its Executive Committee members were the African American intellectual-activist Anna J. Cooper (1858–1964) and African English composer Samuel Coleridge-Taylor (1875–1912) (W.E.B. DuBois papers (MS 312), “Pan-African Association: Report of the Pan-Africa Congress, August, 1900”; Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 98). Plans were made to open branches in Abyssinia, South Africa, Haiti, the US and other places. As Williams explained the purpose of founding the Pan-African Association:

[I]t was time some effort was made to have us [Africans and people of African descent] recognized as a people, and to enable us to take our position in the world. We were being legislated for without our sanction, and without a voice in the laws that were made to govern us. My idea in bringing about some alteration in this respect was confined in the first place to the British colonies, but the scheme developed into a Pan-African one. Our objects now is to secure throughout the world the same facilities and privileges for the black as the white man enjoys ... (Sherwood, *The origins of Pan-Africanism*, 92)

Accordingly, the main objectives of the Pan-African Association were to, “Secure civil and political rights for Africans and their descendants throughout the world,” “Approach Governments and influence legislation in the interests of the black races” and “Ameliorate the condition of the oppressed negro in all parts of the world” (Sherwood, *The origins of Pan-Africanism*, 91–92).

24 Sherwood, *Origins of Pan-Africanism*, 127; Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History*, 45–46.

25 Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History*, 43–45.

26 Catherine Lu, “Justice and Moral Regeneration: Lessons from the Treaty of Versailles,” *International Studies Review*, Vol 4, No 3 (2002): 3–25.

27 DuBois, 1917, “The Negro’s Fatherland,” p. 141; cf. Adi, 2018, p. 44.

28 W.E.B. DuBois, “Editorial,” *The Crisis*, vol 17, no 4 (1919): 165.

29 W.E.B. DuBois, “The Black Man in the Revolution of 1914–1918,” *The Crisis*, vol 17 no 5 (1919): 218; DuBois, *Dusk of Dawn*, 130–131; For a detailed account by DuBois himself in 1919 of his sojourn in Paris, the process leading up to the First Pan-African Congress in Paris and his hopes for its development, see W.E.B. DuBois, ‘My Mission (Opinion of W.E.B. DuBois).’ *The Crisis*, Vol. 18, no. 1 (1919e): 7–9.

30 DuBois, “The Black Man in the Revolution of 1914–1918,” 218; “My Mission (Opinion of W.E.B. DuBois),” *The Crisis*, vol 18 no 1 (1919), 8.

31 W.E.B. DuBois, “Letters from DuBois,” *The Crisis*, Vol 17, No 4 (1919): 163; “The Pan-African Congress,” *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, No 6 (1919): 271.

32 W.E.B. DuBois, “Memorandum to M. Diagne and Others on a Pan-African Congress to be Held in Paris in February, 1919,” *The Crisis*, Vol 17, No 5 (1919): 224.

33 DuBois, “My Mission (Opinion of W.E.B. DuBois),” 8.

34 W.E.B. DuBois, “Not ‘Separatism,’” *The Crisis*, Vol 17, No 4 (1919): 166.

35 DuBois, “Editorial,” 165–166.

36 Ibid.

37 W.E.B. DuBois, “To the World (Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress),” *The Crisis*, Vol 23, No 1 (1921): 6. Of this he writes:

It is the shame of the world that today the relation between the main groups of mankind and their mutual estimate and respect is determined chiefly by the degree in which one can subject the other to its service, enslaving labor, making ignorance compulsory, uprooting ruthlessly religion and customs, and destroying government, so that the favored Few may luxuriate in the toil of the tortured Many.

In his autobiography from 1940, *Dusk of Dawn*, DuBois writes similarly that he at the Paris Peace Conference 1919 was “thrown into direct touch with what I came later to know was the real crux of the problems of my time; and that is the widespread effort of white Europe to use the labor and material of the colored world for its own wealth and power” (130–131).

38 Where “racial exploitation” is its own analytical category and arguably more central, pervasive and clearly delineated in the organization of the global economy than “class exploitation.” Cf. e.g. Mills, “Racial Exploitation,” 113–135; Cedric J. Robinson, *Black Marxism: The Making of the Black Radical Tradition* (Chapel Hill and London: The University of North Carolina Press, 2000/1983). In the same Manifesto, DuBois writes that the great industrial problem of labor exploitation which had hitherto been regarded as a domestic problem of the global north must be viewed far more broadly if it is ever to be resolved:

- Labor and capital in England, France and America can never solve their problem as long as a similar and vastly greater problem of poverty and injustice marks the relations of the whiter and darker peoples. (DuBois, "To the World," 6)
- 39 DuBois, "To the World," 7. In this crime "white labor," he wrote, "is *particeps criminis* with white capital" and "the vast power of the white labor vote in modern democracies has been cajoled and flattered into imperialistic schemes to enslave and debauch black, brown and yellow labor." Whereas, [T]he educated and cultured of the world, the well-born and well-bred, and even the deeply pious and philanthropic, receive their training and comfort and luxury, the ministrations of the delicate beauty and sensibility, on condition that they neither inquire into the real source of their income and the methods of distribution or interfere with the legal props which rest on a pitiful human foundation of writhing white and yellow and brown and black bodies. (Ibid)
- 40 Cf. for instance, the resolutions and manifesto to the League of Nations of the Second Pan-African Congress 1921, W.E.B. DuBois, 'To the World and 'Manifesto to the League of Nations', *The Crisis*, Vol. 23, no. 1 (1921a): 18.
- 41 DuBois, "The Pan-African Congress," 273–274.
- 42 This is from a resolution of the Fourth Pan-African Congress in New York City 1927. Quoted in Brandon Kendhammer, "DuBois the Pan-Africanist and the Development of African Nationalism," *Ethnic and Racial Studies*, Vol 30 No 1 (2007): 57.
- 43 Cf. e.g. Adom Getachew, *Worldmaking after Empire. The Rise and Fall of Self-determination* (Princeton and Oxford: Princeton University Press, 2019); Samuel Moyn, *Not Enough: Human Rights in an Unequal World* (Cambridge, Massachusetts: The Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2018); The Sixth Pan-African Congress, "The Sixth Pan-African Congress: Economic Resolutions," *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies*, Vol 5 No 1 (1974): 125–132.
- 44 Jérémie Gilbert, *Natural Resources and Human Rights: An Appraisal* (Oxford and New York: Oxford University Press, 2018), 15.
- 45 UNGA, *Declaration on the Establishment of a New International Economic Order*, A/RES/3201(S-VI), 1974, Article 4(e) and (h), www.refworld.org/docid/3b00f1e048.html (accessed July 29, 2019).
- 46 Getachew, 171–175. Still, the human right of peoples to self-determination, including, "their inalienable right to full sovereignty over all their natural wealth and resources," was reiterated in the UN *Declaration on the Right to Development* (1986) [UNGA, *Declaration on the Right to Development*, adopted by General Assembly Resolution 41/128 of 4 December 1986, www.ohchr.org/EN/ProfessionalInterest/Pages/RightToDevelopment.aspx (accessed 29 July 2019)].
- 47 OAU, *African Charter on Human and Peoples' Rights*, adopted by the 18th Assembly, 1981, Article 21, https://au.int/sites/default/files/treaties/36390-treaty-0011_-_african_charter_on_human_and_peoples_rights_e.pdf (accessed July 29, 2019). A similar spirit may still be found, for instance, in a resolution passed by the UN General Assembly fall 2018—with 128 states voting in favor and 53 states against, including the EU and the entire "Global North" except for Russia—which affirms that everyone is entitled to a democratic and equitable international order requiring, among other things, "The right of peoples and nations to permanent sovereignty over their natural wealth and resources" [UNGA, *Promotion of a democratic and equitable international order*, Resolution A/C.3/73/L.34, Third Committee: 73rd Session, Articles 1 and 6(b), <https://undocs.org/A/C.3/73/L.34> (accessed 29 July 2019). For the voting sheet of 13 November 2018, see: www.un.org/en/ga/third/73/docs/voting_sheets/L.34.pdf (accessed 29 July 2019)].
- 48 Cf. Articles 1 and 2 of *The Universal Declaration of Human Rights* (1948).
- 49 DuBois, "To the World," 5.
- 50 Ibid.
- 51 DuBois, "To the World," 6. On the basis of universal human equality, the Manifesto indicts European states of injustice and hypocrisy:
England, with her Pax Britannica, her courts of justice, established commerce and a certain apparent recognition of native law and customs, has nevertheless systematically fostered ignorance among the natives, has enslaved them and is still enslaving some of them, has usually declined even to try to train black and brown men in real self-governance, to recognize civilized black folks as civilized, or to grant to colored colonies those rights of self-government which it freely gives to white men. (DuBois, "To the World," 7)
- 52 DuBois, "My Mission," 10–11. The final resolution of the First Pan-African Congress called on the League of Nations to, among other things, ensure that international labor law covered natives as well as whites, that they have equitable representation in the League of Nations and that,

Whenever it is proven that African Natives are not receiving just treatment at the hands of any State or that any State deliberately excludes its civilized citizens or subjects of Negro descent from its body politic (...) it shall be the duty of the League of Nations to bring the matters to the attention of the civilized world. (DuBois, "The Pan-African Congress," 274)

Similarly, the Second Pan-African Congress which met in London, Brussels and Paris 28–31 August and 2–6 September 1921 directed its executive officers to approach the League of Nations, "believing that the greatest international body in the world must sooner or later turn its attention to the great racial problem as it today affects persons of [African] descent" (DuBois, "Manifesto to the League of Nations," 18). As Jesse Fauset (1882–1961) reported in an essay in *The Crisis*, she and DuBois met with several lead representatives of the League on September 13 1921—among them its Secretary to which they presented copies in French and English of the outcome documents and resolutions of the Congress (Jesse Fauset, "Impressions of the Second Pan-African Congress," *The Crisis*, Vol 23, No 1 (1921): 17).

- 53 The impetus leading up to the Congress was Italy's 1935 invasion of Ethiopia (Adi, 107). Ethiopia and Liberia were the only countries in Africa at the time that were not colonized by European states. In the League of Nations, European and other members had absolved themselves from any past or present practices of enslavement, explicitly prohibited it in its Covenant and disconnected it from colonial labor—while castigating, scrutinizing and inferiorizing Ethiopia and Liberia for practicing it domestically (Getachew, 53–56). Prior to its invasion, Italy made the case before the League of Nations that Ethiopia was a failed state, in a chronic state of disorder, incapable of fulfilling its obligations as a member of the League, abolishing enslavement or otherwise protecting the rights of its subjects, could not be afforded equality with other members and needed help with being reorganized. Italy used this, including its intention to abolish enslavement in Ethiopia, as a pretext for its invasion (Getachew, 65–66). To C.L.R. James (1901–1989), Italy's invasion and the League's failure to act illustrated "the real motives which move imperialism in its contact with Africa [and] show[ed] the incredible savagery and duplicity of European imperialism in its quest for markets and raw materials" (quoted in Getachew, 68–69). Together with pioneering Pan-African activist Amy Ashwood Garvey, George Padmore (1903–1959), Jomo Kenyatta (1897–1978), who later became Kenya's first President in 1964, and others—James founded the International African Friends of Abyssinia (IAFA) in London in 1935 (Adi, 108–110). Its headquarters was Amy Ashwood Garvey's restaurant on Oxford Street (Adi, 110). In 1944 towards the end of the war, roughly the same group formed the Pan-African Federation (PAF). Kwame Nkrumah (1909–1972), who later would lead Ghana to become the first independent African nation after the war, was appointed Secretary of the Federation. W.E.B. DuBois was made its honorary International President and Amy Ashwood Garvey its Co-President (Padmore, 127–129, 132; Esedbe, 127–128; Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953," 108–109; George Shepperson and St Clare Drake, "The Fifth Pan-African Conference, 1945 and the All African Peoples Congress, 1958," *Contributions in Black Studies: A Journal of African and Afro-American Studies*, Vol 8 No 5 (2008): 56).
- 54 Padmore, 1972, pp. 127–128.
- 55 Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953," 109. Of the nine resolutions that were passed only the final one mentioned any region outside of Africa: "the independence or at least self-government for all British, French and Italian colonies in Africa and the West Indies" (Ibid).
- 56 In St Clare Drake's terms, "Racial Pan-Africanism" was replaced by "Continental Pan-Africanism" (e.g. Shepperson and Drake, 59).
- 57 La Tasha Levy, "Remembering Sixth-PAC: Interviews with Sylvia Hill and Judy Claude, Organizers of the Sixth Pan-African Congress," *Black Scholar*, Vol 37 No 4 (2007): 39–47; Tunde Adeleke, "Africa and Pan-Africanism: Betrayal of a Historical Cause," *The Western Journal of Black Studies*, Vol 21 No 2 (1997): 106–116.
- 58 For the needs and possibilities of such European histories, see e.g. Stuart Hall, "The West and the Rest: Discourse and Power," in *Modernity: An Introduction to Modern Societies*, ed. Stuart Hall et al. (Malden and Oxford: Blackwell Publishers, 1996), 184–227; Michelle M. Wright, *Becoming Black: Creating Identity in the African Diaspora* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2004); Sebastian Conrad, *What Is Global History?* (Princeton and Woodstock: Princeton University Press, 2016); Peo Hansen and Stefan Jonsson, *Eurafrica: An Untold History* (London and New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2015).
- 59 Cf. e.g. Michael McEachrane, "Situating Afro-/African Swedish Studies," in *Black Studies in Europe: A Transnational Dialogue*, ed. S. Fila-Bakabadio and N. Grégoire (Evanston: Northwestern University Press, forthcoming)

- 60 The Pan-Africanism of the European conferences 1900–1945 were male-dominated and -centered. This was partly corrected at the 6th Pan-African Congress 1974 in Dar-es-Salaam, Tanzania, where one of its resolutions endorsed “the emphasis placed by liberation movements on the total emancipation of women in our society as an integral part of the emancipation of all oppressed people” (The Sixth Pan-African Congress, “The Sixth Pan-African Congress: Economic Resolutions,” *Ujamaa: A Journal of African Studies*. Vol 5 No 1 (1974): 130). At the 7th Pan-African Conference in Kampala 1994 the lack of gender equality was more extensively criticized and addressed e.g. with the establishment of a Pan-African Women’s Liberation Organization (Horace G. Campbell. “Rebuilding The Pan African Movement: A Report on the 7th Pan African Congress,” *African Journal of Political Science/Revue Africaine de Science Politique*, Vol 1 No 1 (June 1996): 1–8).
- 61 It seems fair to say that this is the general orientation of Black European Studies too. Cf e.g. Stuart Hall, “Cultural Identity and Diaspora,” in *Identity, Community, Culture, Difference*, ed. Jonathan Rutherford (London: Lawrence and Wishart, 1990), 222–237; Paul Gilroy, *The Black Atlantic: Modernity and Double Consciousness* (London and New York: Verso, 1993); Jacqueline Nassy Brown, *Dropping Anchor, Setting Sail: Geographies of Race in Black Liverpool* (Princeton and Woodstock: Princeton University Press, 2005); Michelle M. Wright, *Becoming Black: Creating Identity in the African Diaspora* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2004) and *Physics of Blackness: Beyond the Middle Passage Epistemology* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2015); Darlene Clark Hine et al., eds., *Black Europe and the African Diaspora* (Urbana and Chicago: University of Illinois Press, 2009).
- 62 Since the introduction of the scholarly term “African diaspora” at the First International Conference on African History 1965 in Dar es Salaam, Tanzania, it has been intimately bound up with cultural identity (and in the beginning cultural nationalism too) (Ashraf H.A. Ashraf, “The Quality of Diaspora,” *Diaspora: A Journal of Transnational Studies*, Vol 18 No 3 (2009): 287–304). Even when early African Diaspora Studies scholars such as St Clare Drake and Joseph Harris sought to give African Diaspora Studies a Pan-African framework they still centered culture and identity (St Clare Drake, “The Black Diaspora in Pan-African Perspective,” *The Black Scholar*, Vol 7 No 1 (1975): 2–13; Joseph E. Harris, “The Dynamics of the Global African Diaspora,” in *The African Diaspora*, ed. Alusine Jalloh and Stephen E. Maizlish. (Arlington: Texas A&M University Press, 1996), 7–21).
- 63 DuBois, “Letters from DuBois,” 165.
- 64 DuBois, “To the World,” 8.

Bibliography

- Abdul-Raheem, Tajudeen, ed. *Pan-Africanism: politics, Economy and Social Change in the Twenty-First Century*. New York: New York University Press, 1996.
- Ackah, William B. *Pan-Africanism: exploring the Contradictions: politics, Identity and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora*. Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999.
- Adeleke, Tunde. “Africa and Pan-Africanism: betrayal of a Historical Cause.” *The Western Journal of Black Studies*, Vol. 21, no. 2 (1997): 106–116.
- Adi, Hakim. *Pan-Africanism: A History*. London, New York, Oxford, New Delhi, Sydney: Bloomsbury Academic, 2018.
- Ajala, Adegunle. *Pan-Africanism: evolution, Progress and Prospects*. London: André Deutsch Limited, 1973.
- Appiah, K. Anthony. *In My Father’s House: africa in the Philosophy of Culture*. Oxford, New York and Toronto: Oxford University Press, 1992.
- Appiah, K. Anthony. “Pan-Africanism.” in *Africana: the Encyclopedia of the African and African American Experience. Second Edition*. edited by. K. Anthony. Appiah and Henry Louis. Gates, 325–328. Oxford and Toronto: Oxford University Press, 2005.
- Bogues, Anthony. “C.L.R. James, Pan-Africanism and the Black Radical Tradition.” *Critical Arts: South-North Cultural and Media Studies*, Vol. 25, no. 4 (2011): 484–499.
- Brown, Jacqueline Nassy. *Dropping Anchor, Setting Sail: geographies of Race in Black Liverpool*. Princeton and Woodstock: Princeton University Press, 2005.
- Campbell, Horace G. “Rebuilding the Pan African Movement: A Report on the 7th Pan African Congress.” *African Journal of Political Science/Revue Africaine De Science Politique*, Vol. 1, no. 1 (June 1996): 1–8.

- Conrad, Sebastian. *What Is Global History?*. Princeton and Woodstock: Princeton University Press, 2016.
- Drake, St Clare. "The Black Diaspora in Pan-African Perspective." *The Black Scholar*, Vol. 7, no. 1 (1975): 2–13.
- Du Bois, W.E.B., Alexander, Walters, Brown, Henry B. and Williams, H. Sylvester. "To the Nations of the World, Ca 1900." *W.E.B. DuBois Papers*. <http://credo.library.umass.edu/view/full/mums312-b004-i321> (accessed May 3, 2019).
- DuBois, W.E.B. "The Negro's Fatherland." *The Survey*, Vol. 39 (Oct 1917–March 1918): 141.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "The Black Man in the Revolution of 1914–1918." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 5 (1919a): 218–223.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "Editorial." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 4 (1919b): 163–166.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "Letters from DuBois." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 4 (1919c): 163–164.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "Memorandum to M. Diagne and Others on a Pan-African Congress to Be Held in Paris in February, 1919." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 5 (1919d): 224–225.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "My Mission (Opinion of W.E.B. DuBois)." *The Crisis*, Vol. 18, no. 1 (1919e): 7–9.
- DuBois, W.E.B. Not "Separatism." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 4 (1919f): 166.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "The Pan-African Congress." *The Crisis*, Vol. 17, no. 6 (1919g): 271–274.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "Manifesto to the League of Nations." *The Crisis*, Vol. 23, no. 1 (1921a): 18.
- DuBois, W.E.B. "To the World (Manifesto of the Second Pan-African Congress)." *The Crisis*, Vol. 23, no. 1 (1921b): 5–11.
- DuBois, W.E.B. DuBois. *Dusk of Dawn: An Essay Toward an Autobiography of a Race Concept*. Oxford and New York: Oxford University Press, 1940/2007.
- Esedebe, P. Olisanwuche. *Pan-Africanism: the Idea and Movement, 1776-1991*. Second Edition. Washington: Howard University Press, 1994.
- Fauset, Jesse. "Impressions of the Second Pan-African Congress." *The Crisis*, Vol. 23, no. 1 (1921): 12–18.
- Getachew, Adom. *Worldmaking after Empire. The Rise and Fall of Self-determination*. Princeton and Oxford: Princeton University Press, 2019.
- Gilbert, Jérémie. *Natural Resources and Human Rights: an Appraisal*. Oxford and New York: Oxford University Press, 2018.
- Gilroy, Paul. *The Black Atlantic: modernity and Double Consciousness*. London and New York: Verso, 1993.
- Hall, Stuart. "Cultural Identity and Diaspora." in *Identity, Community, Culture, Difference*. edited by. Jonathan. Rutherford, 222–237. London: Lawrence and Wishart, 1990.
- Hall, Stuart. "The West and the Rest: discourse and Power." in *Modernity: an Introduction to Modern Societies*. edited by Stuart. Hall et al., 184–227. Malden and Oxford: Blackwell Publishers, 1996.
- Hansen, Peo and Jonsson, Stefan. *Eurafrica: an Untold History*. London and New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2015.
- Harris, Joseph E. "The Dynamics of the Global African Diaspora." in *The African Diaspora*. edited by. Alusine. Jalloh and Stephen E.. Maizlish, 7–21. Arlington: Texas A&M University Press, 1996.
- Hine, Darlene Clark, et al., eds. *Black Europe and the African Diaspora*. Urbana and Chicago: University of Illinois Press, 2009.
- Kendhammer, Brandon. "Dubois the Pan-Africanist and the Development of African Nationalism." *Ethnic and Racial Studies*, Vol. 30, no. 1 (2007): 51–71.
- Levy, La Tasha. "Remembering Sixth-PAC: interviews with Sylvia Hill and Judy Claude, Organizers of the Sixth Pan-African Congress." *Black Scholar*, Vol. 37, no. 4 (2007): 39–47.
- Lu, Catherine. "Justice and Moral Regeneration: lessons from the Treaty of Versailles." *International Studies Review*, Vol. 4, no. 3 (2002): 3–25.
- McEachrane, Michael. "Universal Human Rights and the Coloniality of Race in Sweden." *Human Rights Review*, Vol. 19, no. 4 (2018): 471–493.
- McEachrane, Michael. "Situating Afro-/African Swedish Studies." in *Black Studies in Europe: A Transnational Dialogue*. edited by. S.. Fila-Bakabadio and N.. Grégoire, Evanston: Northwestern University Press, forthcoming.
- Mills, Charles. "White Supremacy as a Sociopolitical System." in Mills, *From Class to Race: essays in White Marxism and Black Radicalism*. 177–194. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003.
- Mills, Charles. "Racial Exploitation." in Mills, *Black Rights/White Wrongs: the Critique of Racial Liberalism*. 113–135. New York: Oxford University Press, 2017.
- Moyn, Samuel. *Not Enough: human Rights in an Unequal World*. Cambridge, Massachusetts: The Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2018.

- Organization of African Unity (OAU). *African Charter on Human and Peoples' Rights*. Adopted by the 18th Assembly of the OAU, 1981. https://au.int/sites/default/files/treaties/36390-treaty-0011_-_african_charter_on_human_and_peoples_rights_e.pdf (accessed July 29, 2019).
- Padmore, George. *Pan-Africanism or Communism*. Garden City, New York: Anchor Books, 1972.
- Robinson, Cedric J. *Black Marxism: the Making of the Black Radical Tradition*. Chapel Hill and London: The University of North Carolina Press, 2000/1983.
- Rushdy, Ashraf H.A. "The Quality of Diaspora." *Diaspora: A Journal of Transnational Studies*, Vol. 18, no. 3 (2009): 287–304.
- Shepperson, George. "Pan-africanism and 'Pan-africanism': some Historical Notes." *Phylon (1960-)*, Vol. 23, no. 4 (1962): 346–358.
- Shepperson, George and Drake, St Clare. "The Fifth Pan-African Conference, 1945 and the All African Peoples Congress, 1958." *Contributions in Black Studies: A Journal of African and Afro-American Studies*, Vol. 8, no. 5 (2008): 35–66.
- Sherwood, Marika. *Origins of Pan-Africanism: Henry Sylvester Williams, Africa and the African Diaspora*. New York and Abingdon: Routledge, 2011.
- The Sixth Pan-African Congress. "The Sixth Pan-African Congress: economic Resolutions." *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies*, Vol. 5, no. 1 (1974): 125–132.
- United Nations General Assembly (UNGA). *Declaration on the Right to Development*. Adopted by General Assembly Resolution 41/128, December 4, 1986. www.ohchr.org/EN/ProfessionalInterest/Pages/RightToDevelopment.aspx (accessed July 29, 2019).
- United Nations General Assembly (UNGA). *Promotion of a democratic and equitable international order*. Resolution A/C.3/73/L.34, Third Committee: 73rd Session. <https://undocs.org/A/C.3/73/L.34> (accessed July 29, 2019).
- Wright, Michelle M. *Becoming Black: creating Identity in the African Diaspora*. Durham: Duke University Press, 2004.
- Wright, Michelle M. *Physics of Blackness: beyond the Middle Passage Epistemology*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2015.

Pan-Africanism in France

Annette K. Joseph-Gabriel

In contemporary scholarship, Pan-Africanism is largely studied as a primarily 20th century movement in the English-speaking world.¹ Histories of Pan-Africanism recount the contributions made by intellectuals and political figures from anglophone Africa, the Caribbean and the United States to the “ideas, activities, organizations and movements that, sometimes in concert, resisted the exploitation and oppression of all those of African heritage, opposed and refuted the ideologies of anti-African racism and celebrated African achievement, history and the very notion of being African.”² When France is evoked in this history, it is as the site of international exchange where English-speaking Pan-Africanists came into conversation with their black French contemporaries who were affiliated with the Negritude Movement. In this historical account, Pan-Africanism and Negritude are sometimes viewed as synonyms such that “perhaps what has been called Négritude can be considered merely a Francophone cultural form of Pan-Africanism.”³ The result of this conflation is that the existence of Pan-Africanism in France becomes confined to a narrow slice of time that corresponds to the coining of the neologism Negritude by black students in Paris in the 1930s and the subsequent peak of the movement in the mid-20th century.

Pan-Africanism and Negritude certainly overlap in their affirmation of the histories and identities of people of African descent through literary production and political leadership. There are however also significant differences between the two movements. Notably, the history of Pan-Africanist thought, going back at least to the 19th century with the work of Anténor Firmin, Edward Blyden, Martin Delaney and others, predates the specific articulation of Negritude as a philosophy and literary aesthetic by Aimé and Suzanne Césaire, Léon Damas, Paulette Nardal, Léopold Senghor and others. Further, where Negritude focused on cultural production, Pan-Africanism extended beyond the milieu of students and intellectuals to include an emphasis on grassroots organizing, particularly by and on behalf of disenfranchised workers. While we may therefore think of Negritude as a specific articulation of broader Pan-African ideals, the linguistic demarcation that situates Pan-Africanism as a primarily anglophone movement and Negritude as its francophone equivalent obscures the fact that African-descended citizens and subjects of the French empire were also key contributors to Pan-Africanist thought and activism before and beyond Negritude.

Joy Hendrickson and Hoda Zaki describe Pan-Africanism as a “loosely knit and sometimes contradictory constellation of ideas, organizations and movements that transcend national borders.”⁴ For this reason, rather than try to articulate a working definition here, it is more productive to identify the core tenets of Pan-Africanist thought and to examine the ways that these tenets inform anti-colonial and anti-racist organizing in France. As Hendrickson and Zaki note,

The ideals that distinguish Pan-Africanism include the need for Africa to unify for the greater economic, political, and social good of all Africans; the existence of an African personality; the vital connections between continental Africans and Africans in the diaspora; the necessity to protest racism and to assert the contributions of African civilizations; the need to remove all vestiges of colonialism; and the desire for human dignity.⁵

Pan-Africanism therefore envisages liberation from imperial oppression through collective action that encompasses the cultural, political and economic milieus.

The goal of this chapter is to trace the contemporary history of these core elements of Pan-Africanist thought and activism in France in the 20th and 21st centuries. Scholarship that traces the rise and evolution of Pan-Africanism establishes a firm temporal and geographic divide that locates the movement in the African diaspora in the 19th and early 20th centuries and situates it as a primarily continental phenomenon in Africa from the mid-20th century to today.⁶ An examination of Pan-Africanism in France, however, challenges this timeline by highlighting not only the movement’s zenith in Paris between the two world wars, but also its continued legacy among black French activists today. To this end, I examine a selection of Pan-African journals published by anticolonial organizations in the interwar period and the ways that their Pan-Africanist discourse continues to be mobilized by contemporary black feminist organizations in response to the particular contours of French imperialism.

This reading highlights the ways that France’s policy of assimilation in the colonial era, today refigured as a national rhetoric of “race-blindness,” contributed to the perception of the metropole as a racial utopia immune from the racism of more visibly segregationist societies such as the United States.⁷ I argue that this perception of an egalitarian France played a significant role in shaping how black French thinkers and activists envisioned their place in a global struggle against racism and imperialism. For French people of African-descent who experienced firsthand the realities of French colonial violence and exploitation, working towards the political, economic and cultural liberation of black people worldwide necessitated then, and continues to demand now, reckoning with the racial politics of French imperialism, not only overseas but also in the Hexagon.

Pan-Africanism in the interwar years

The 1920s and 30s saw a flurry of anti-imperialist activism in France through the creation of anti-racist organizations by black students and workers. Many of these organizations published periodicals that contributed to the vibrant black press of the interwar years. Among these periodicals, two stand out for their explicitly Pan-Africanist goals, and for the international dialogue they fostered in their pages around the realities of racism in the French empire: *Les Continents* and *La Voix des nègres*. *Les Continents*, was the mouthpiece of the Ligue universelle de la défense de la race noire (Universal League for the Defense of the Black Race), founded in 1924 by Kojo Tovalou Houénou with the aim to

develop solidarity amongst individuals of the black race; to group them for the rebuilding of their native land; to protect them from acts of violence, physical cruelty, or abuse; to combat the dogma of the inferiority of races of color; to assist its members morally and materially.⁸

The Ligue's stated aims of restoration of land and dignity for people of African descent places it firmly within the Pan-African tradition that Hendrickson and Zaki identify. In its publication, *Les Continents*, the Ligue's first order of business was to dispel the myth of France as a racial paradise. In one of the journal's first issues, the celebrated Antillean writer and colonial administrator, René Maran, wrote a scathing response to an article published earlier that year by African American writer Alain Locke. Locke's essay, "The Black Watch on the Rhine," appeared in the January 1924 issue of *Opportunity: Journal of Negro Life*. In this article, Locke recounted his observations of the prominent presence of black soldiers in the French army in occupied Germany. That these colonial regiments counted among their number high-ranking officers, particularly sergeants from the Antilles and North Africa, served as evidence for Locke that France had "always traditionally been fair to her colored subjects."⁹ As Locke noted, other European countries had severely criticized France for its use of colonial troops. For example, articles such as E.D Morel's "Black Scourge in Europe" portrayed African soldiers as hypersexualized "instrument(s) of revenge" unleashed by France on white German girls in the Rhine.¹⁰

Locke's response sought to counter these racist claims and therefore emphasized the dignity and disciplined comportment of the colonial troops. This defense of black soldiers, however, ultimately read as praise for a France where all were equal citizens. Locke claimed that the colonial troops he saw in Germany were "not merely French soldiers, they are French citizens, comrades not only in arms but in all the basic human relationships."¹¹ Citing the supposed virtues of "French fraternity and democracy," he went a step further to argue that rather than view the black citizen as "merely a French man who happens to be colored," France had managed to attain that elusive balance between its universal ideals and the particular cultures of its black citizens, a balance that, as we will see in the subsequent discussion of contemporary anti-racist organizations, remains more myth than reality in France today.¹² In this idealized vision of France, the colonial policy of assimilation and its attendant narrative of a civilizing mission as the supposed justification for colonial exploitation all but disappear, leaving for Locke's readership the image of the Hexagon as that racial utopia to emulate. If, as Locke claimed, France recognized the fundamental humanity and equality of Africans, their languages, cultures and religions, then where did that leave Pan-Africanism? Was there a need for France's colonized subjects to, as Houénou's Ligue envisioned, challenge racist discourses of black inferiority and protest the brutality of colonialism?

René Maran's open letter to Locke in *Les Continents* responded to this question with a resounding yes. Maran argued that the idealized image of France on paper did not negate the racism and discrimination that was the lived experience of the colonized subject: "Speeches and texts — wind and pieces of paper — are no match for this daily reality."¹³ Maran catalogued for Locke the physical and psychic violence perpetrated by France in its administering of its colonies. He condemned the colonial educational system that excised more radical content such as the history of the French Revolution from its curriculum, as well as the metropole's willful understaffing of healthcare facilities that could not adequately respond to the high number of cases of sleeping sickness. Maran went on to analyze for his American interlocutor what he described as the two faces of France. His reading of the conflict between appearance

and reality is worth quoting in full here because beyond seeking to dispel the myth of racial equality in France, it also highlights the challenges that the pervasive opinion of France's benevolence posed to the credibility of Pan-Africanist condemnations of French racism. Maran wrote:

First of all, learn, my dear Mr. Locke, that France has two countenances. The one, official, — governmental, if you please — is all smiles and fine pretenses, especially to distinguished visitors. But the smiles turn to mocking chuckles as the stranger turns his back. It is not until many a disillusioning sham has been pierced that one can penetrate the thick and clever and guarded hypocrisy that masks a malevolent system. The other face of France is only beauty and human kindness. Serious, compassionate, fair, she turns that only to the children of her bosom, her citizens, her humble and unsuspecting masses. This true France, whom all who come to see and know love, and love eternally, is not the France of foreign view and foreign policies.¹⁴

Ever the deliberate writer, Maran's language of masking, concealing and pretense is crucial because it highlights the importance of possessing an intimate knowledge of France as an imperial power in order to truly see and therefore resist French colonialism. Locke's portrayal of harmonious race relations, overdetermined as it was by European denunciations of the presence of black soldiers, also pegged its understanding of racism to its manifestations in the Anglo-Saxon world. The absence of egregious displays of discrimination against those who were "sufficiently colored to be 'Jim-crowed' and ostracized in the American South" signaled to Locke an egalitarian France.¹⁵ Maran's image of a two-faced France therefore does more than challenge the myth of the metropole's civilizing mission. By situating Locke as an outsider to these difficult-to-discern realities of French racism, it stakes a claim for Pan-Africanism in France by emphasizing black French subjects' intimate, firsthand knowledge of the true nature of imperial France and therefore the unique contributions they were poised to make to the struggle against a global imperialism that was not limited to the English-speaking world but also implicated France in the atrocities of empire.

Although *Les Continents* was short-lived, it was succeeded by other journals that continued these vibrant and sometimes contested transatlantic conversations in their pages. In January 1927, the Comité de défense de la race nègre (Committee for the Defense of the Black Race), another anti-racist organization formed on the heels of the demise of Houénou's Ligue, published the inaugural issue of its journal *La Voix des nègres*. Although contemporary scholarship has largely focused on the journal's reclamation of the derogatory epithet "nègre," its explicitly Pan-African aims go beyond this terminology and are best articulated in the Comité's mission statement. In a forceful declaration that foreshadowed Frantz Fanon's denunciation of colonialism in *The Wretched of the Earth*, the journal affirmed that the Comité:

Considering that among the disinherited of the land of Africa; the negro race which constitutes the fifth largest population is the most humiliated of all the human race; that the hundreds and millions of men who make up this race are an immense oppressed world; that all the African nations, annihilated over the course of centuries must stand up and re-flourish in order to reoccupy their place in the council of all the people; considering that experience shows that the emancipation of the negroes will be the work of the negroes themselves, that enlightenment, progress and colonialism are incompatible; that the first principle of human dignity is that it is made for all men; have the honor of

informing you that it has taken the initiative to publish in Paris LA VOIX DES NÈGRES.¹⁶

The Comité's emphasis on African emancipation as part of a broader fight for the liberation of the black race firmly establishes it within the tradition of Pan-Africanism. Its belief in political sovereignty as the only viable path to liberation, also distinguishes it from the Césairean strand of Negritude that sought to reconcile the valorization of black culture and identity with the political assimilation of France's colonial territories in the Caribbean and South America into the French polity as overseas departments. In subsequent issues, *La Voix des nègres* took this emphasis on political autonomy and sovereignty even further through their radical calls for independence. The Comité's president, Lamine Senghor, denounced French nationality for black people as simply serving the needs of empire,¹⁷ and declared France's colonial policy of assimilation to be morally and materially indefensible.¹⁸

Despite *La Voix des nègres*' forceful denunciations of racism in France, its presence in multiple major French cities including Marseille, Nice, Le Havre and Bordeaux and the many black journals that succeeded it and continued its mantle of cataloguing French imperial violence, influential black thinkers and leaders around the world still claimed that the Hexagon was a racial utopia. In August 1928, Marcus Garvey reported on his visit to France to readers of *The Negro World*. The bold and extensive subtitle of his open letter encapsulated what Garvey saw to be the nature of race relations in France: "Finds French Republic Courteous and Fair to Black Men in France, While Maintaining Policy of Oppression in Africa. NEGRO IN FRANCE IS CAREFREE OWING TO LACK OF SPUR TO RACE CONSCIOUSNESS. Warns the Race Against Losing Its Idealism to Build Constructively for Itself."¹⁹ Unlike Locke, for whom France was a benevolent colonizer at home and abroad, Garvey presented a clear-eyed view of oppression in the French colonies but continued the erasure of that oppression in the metropole. From his viewpoint, France as a racial utopia had lulled black French people into inaction and had stalled political action towards emancipation. The work of France's Pan-Africanist organizations remained invisible to Garvey in much the same way that, as Maran argued, France's true faces remained obscured for Locke. Yet as *Les Continents*, *La Voix des nègres* and their successors such as *La Race nègre*, *Le Cri des nègres*, *La Dépêche africaine*, *L'Étudiant noir*, *La Revue du monde noir* and others all showed, Pan-African thinkers and activists galvanized anticolonial action on the ground and presented clear evidence of the racism and discrimination that black students and workers from Africa and the Antilles continued to face in the Hexagon throughout the interwar years.

Pan-Africanism and afro-feminism in the 21st century

Although Pan-Africanism in France reached its zenith during the interwar years, the movement did not end with the outbreak of World War II. As Félix Germain has shown in his study *Decolonizing the Republic: African and Caribbean Migrants in Postwar Paris, 1946–1974*, Pan-Africanist sentiment among working class black people in France continued in the postwar period. Senegalese writer and filmmaker Ousmane Sembène, for example, saw in the Confédération Générale du Travail (CGT) trade union, a platform for activism "to end colonialism in Africa, while fighting to improve conditions for African workers in Marseilles, which he noticed were drastically different from those of the educated black middle class of Paris."²⁰ The decades after World War II were also marked by a series of Pan-Africanist conversations in Bandung, Paris and elsewhere about black art, culture and liberation from

colonial rule. At the first International Congress of Black Writers and Artists in Paris in 1956, Richard Wright decried the congress' failure to include as speakers any of the black women whose monumental contributions to black internationalist literary and political movements have only recently begun to be centered in contemporary scholarship.²¹ As Wright noted, "In our struggle for freedom, against great odds, we cannot afford to ignore one half of our manpower, that is the force of women and their active collaboration. Black men will not be free until their women are free."²² Wright's call for the recognition of black women as crucial participants in the project for collective black liberation finds an echo today in the organization Mwasi: Collectif afroféministe, an organization created in 2014 by a group of French women who identify as African or of African descent.

In many ways, Mwasi has taken up the mantle of their 20th century Pan-Africanist predecessors who challenged French imperialism on two fronts, in the metropole and in the colonies. In their mission statement they declare that their "revolutionary struggles for liberation" take as a point of departure "the experiences of black women living in France in order to produce collective strategies and political analyses."²³ At the same time, they also present a broader afro-diasporic geography similar to the transnational scope of the Ligue and the Comité. Their specific brand of afro-feminism therefore seeks to "contribute in an important way to the construction of feminist thought be it in France, in Sub-Saharan Africa, in the Caribbean or in the African diaspora."²⁴ Mwasi is not merely an implicit inheritor of earlier Pan-Africanist ideals. The organization explicitly identifies its mission as carrying on a woman-centered Pan-African political vision: "Since the dawn of time, African women and women of African descent have fought courageously for their emancipation. Today it is our turn to pick up the torch!"²⁵ In their book, *Afrofem*, Mwasi further describes their written production as their "afro-feminist contribution to black and Pan-African liberation."²⁶

If Mwasi's geographic focus and their emphasis on political activism beyond literary and philosophical interventions echo the work of the Pan-African organizations in interwar France, they depart from the politics of these predecessors in two significant ways. First, their specifically black feminist lens means that whereas journals such as *Les Continents* and *La Voix des nègres* featured an almost exclusively male list of contributors, the publication *Afrofem* centers black women's collective authorship. In the organization's writings, Mwasi sheds light on black women's erasure from the genealogy of Pan-Africanism and contends that black French women "waited neither for the United States nor for the 19th century to fight for the rights of black people and more generally for all colonized people."²⁷ In order to counter a historical narrative where all the French women are white and all the black women are American, Mwasi includes on its website a list of foremothers, black French women such as Gerty Archimède, Paulette Nardal and Suzanne Césaire who played crucial roles in anticolonial intellectual and political movements. Mwasi's Pan-Africanist activism is therefore inextricably intertwined with its goal of redressing the historical erasure and ongoing sidelining of black French women from discourses of liberation. The second critical difference between Mwasi and its predecessors is its policy of *non-mixité*. Unlike the Pan-African organizations of the interwar years that included a number of white French writers and thinkers as allies and interlocutors, Mwasi reserves a portion of its political action and spaces of dialogue uniquely for women who identify as African or of African descent and enforces its delineation of these spaces as *noire* and *métisse* only.

Despite these fundamental differences, Mwasi finds itself contending with the same claims about France's egalitarian treatment of all regardless of race, that Locke and Garvey put forward in the early 20th century, and that the French state now wields as a tool to

render Pan-Africanism in the Hexagon redundant. Indeed, the most controversial aspect of Mwasi's political vision, its policy of non-mixité, is, according to representatives of the French government, not only unnecessary in a supposedly egalitarian France, but also illegal because it contravenes the universalist principles of the French Republic as set out in the constitution. For example, in July 2017, Mwasi organized an afrofeminist festival, Nyansapo, at which festival sites were to be demarcated into three zones, one open only to black women, another to black people of all genders and a third to people of all races and genders. Nyansapo drew collective condemnation from a range of actors across the political spectrum, including the socialist mayor of Paris, Anne Hidalgo, the leader of the far-right National Front party, Marine Le Pen and representatives of anti-racist organizations such as SOS Racisme and the Ligue internationale contre le racisme et l'antisémitisme (International League against Racism and Antisemitism, LICRA). The latter organization, unwittingly re-enacting the erasure of black French women from the genealogy of Pan-Africanist action that the Nyansapo festival sought to counter, declared that the American civil rights activist "Rosa Parks would be turning in her grave" at the thought of Mwasi's practice of non-mixité.²⁸ In their condemnations of Mwasi's non-mixed spaces, each of these political actors invoked France's republicanism as a rallying cry against what they saw to be unwarranted racial separatism. The outcry over Mwasi's non-mixité reveals the terms on which black people are expected to be present in France by highlighting public space as a key site of contestation in the debate about the compatibility of Pan-Africanism and French republicanism.

There is therefore a clear line of continuity that runs from 20th century claims about racial equality in France to 21st century portrayals of Pan-Africanism as divisive in a "race blind" Republic. Certainly, in many ways, Locke's and Garvey's political motivations for lauding France as a racially egalitarian society in the 20th century, differed both from each other's and from those of Mwasi's critics. For Locke, France's supposedly successful integration of colonial soldiers into its army was a testament to the dignity of French people of African descent. For Garvey, France's apparent inability to see race had lulled black French people into inaction and was impeding the formation of a Pan-Africanist consciousness. For SOS Racisme, LICRA and other French anti-racist organizations whose very raison d'être suggests their ability to recognize racism in France, the Republic's seductive language of equality continues to exercise its pull, if not as the present reality, then as an imminent reality to be attained by integration into the French Republic. Despite these differences, Locke, Garvey, SOS Racisme and LICRA share the premise that race consciousness, a core principle of Pan-Africanism, is at best superfluous in a country where the Republican values of liberty, equality and fraternity render race consciousness irrelevant.

Like *Les Continents* and other 20th century Pan-African organizations in France that had to counter the myth of a French racial utopia from other black intellectuals and activists, Mwasi too continues to challenge the disavowal of race consciousness by prominent contemporary anti-racist organizations such as SOS Racisme, LICRA and the Conseil représentatif des associations noire (Representative Council of Black Associations, CRAN). In "The Politics of Race-Blindness: (Anti)Blackness and Category-blindness in Contemporary France" Trica Keaton shows how anti-racist organizations' perpetuation of the myth of "race and category blindness" in France ultimately works against their anti-discrimination efforts. As Keaton argues of these organizations,

their emphasis on "color" and "diversity," as non-racial constructs, is indicative more of how French republicanism expresses its power to delegitimize discrimination termed

“racial” by disqualifying “race,” which also relies upon the consent of the racialized for it to be effective.²⁹

If, as Keaton shows, the refusal of racial identity as “a basis for community formation among ‘Blacks’ in France”³⁰ ultimately “inadvertently assists in the cloaking of France’s race-making past,”³¹ the present study also shows the ways that this inaccurate view of race relations in France can disavow race consciousness, a core principle of Pan-Africanist thought. Mwasi’s refusal to decenter blackness in its political discourse therefore continues to stake a claim for the relevance and legitimacy of Pan-Africanism in France.

In the French context, Pan-Africanism continues to be an important organizing principle for activists seeking to counter the enduring myth of a France that does not see race. From the organizations that operated throughout the metropole at the height of the movement in the 20th century to its ideological successors today, Pan-Africanist thought provides a critical and clear-eyed view of French imperialism and its on-going legacy, not only in the former colonies in Africa, the Caribbean and elsewhere, but also in the Hexagon.

Notes

- 1 See for example Ackah, William B., *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions: Politics, Identity and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999), Falola, Toyin, and Kwame Essien, *Pan-Africanism and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity* (London, Routledge, 2015), and Walters, Ronald W., *Pan Africanism in the African Diaspora: An Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements* (Detroit, Wayne State University Press, 2000).
- 2 Adi, Hakim, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 3.
- 3 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 105.
- 4 Hendrickson, Joy and Zaki, Hoda, “Pan-Africanism” in *Encyclopedia of Modern Political Thought*, ed. Gregory Claes (Thousand Oaks: SAGE Publications 2013), 615.
- 5 Ibid.
- 6 See for example Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, Hendrickson and Zaki, “Pan-Africanism.”
- 7 See Keaton, Trica Danielle, “The Politics of Race-Blindness: (Anti)blackness and Category-Blindness in Contemporary France.” *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race*. 7 (01): 103–131. Keaton keeps the term “race-blindness” in quotes. I follow suit here and use the term sparingly because while it remains a crucial analytical framework in studies of race in France, it also carries ableist connotations.
- 8 Boittin, Jennifer Anne, *Colonial Metropolis: The Urban Grounds of Anti-imperialism and Feminism in Interwar Paris* (Omaha: University of Nebraska Press, 2015), 81.
- 9 Locke Alain, “The Black Watch on the Rhine,” in *Opportunity: A Journal of Negro Life*. 2(13), Jan. 1924, 6.
- 10 Morel, E.D. “Black Scourge in Europe,” *Daily Herald*. April 10, 1920, 1.
- 11 Locke, “The Black Watch,” 8.
- 12 Ibid.
- 13 Maran, René, “Lettre ouvert au professeur Alain-Leroy Locke,” *Les Continents*. June 15, 1924, 1.
- 14 *Opportunity* published an English translation of Maran’s open letter in its September 1924 issue. See “French Colonial Policy: Open Letters,” *Opportunity*. 2(21), Sept. 1924, 261.
- 15 Locke, “The Black Watch,” 6.
- 16 La Voix des nègres, Jan. 1927, 1. 1. All translations mine unless otherwise indicated.
- 17 Ibid.
- 18 Le comité, “À tous nos frères,” *La Voix des nègres*, Mar. 1927, 1.
- 19 Garvey, Marcus, “Hon. Marcus Garvey, Writing from France, Discusses Treatment Accorded Negroes There and in Other Countries in the World,” *The Negro World*, 24(27), Aug. 11, 1928, 1.
- 20 Germain, Félix, F., *Decolonizing the Republic: African and Caribbean Migrants in Postwar Paris, 1946–1974* (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2016), 119.

- 21 See for example Semley, Lorelle, *To Be Free and French: Citizenship in France's Atlantic Empire* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017), Sharpley-Whiting, T. Denean, *Negritude Women* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2003) and Umoren, Imaobong D., *Race Women Internationalists: Activist-Intellectuals and Global Freedom Struggles* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2018).
- 22 *Congrès international des écrivains et artistes noirs* (Paris: Présence africaine, 1956), 348.
- 23 "Notre déclaration politique," Mwasi: collectif afroféministe, accessed Jan. 12, 2019. <https://mwasicollectif.com/notre-ligne-politique/>
- 24 Ibid.
- 25 "Présentation: Notre vision de l'afroféminisme," Mwasi: collectif afroféministe, accessed Jan. 12, 2019. <https://mwasicollectif.com>
- 26 Mwasi, *Afrofem* (Paris: Éditions Syllepse, 2018).
- 27 "Histoire des luttes des femmes noires" Mwasi: collectif afroféministe, accessed Jan. 12, 2019. <https://mwasicollectif.com/histoire-des-luttes-des-femmes-noires/>
- 28 Agence France-Presse, "Paris Mayor Demands Black Feminist Festival that 'Prohibits' White People be Banned," *The Guardian*, accessed Jan. 12, 2019. www.theguardian.com/world/2017/may/29/paris-mayor-demands-black-feminist-festival-prohibits-white-people-banned-nyansapo
- 29 Keaton, "The Politics of Race-Blindness," 105.
- 30 Ibid.
- 31 Ibid., 124.

Works Cited

- Ackah, William B. 1999. *Pan-Africanism: exploring the Contradictions: politics, Identity and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora*. Aldershot: Ashgate.
- Adi, Hakim. 2018. *Pan-Africanism: A History*. London: Bloomsbury.
- Agence France-Presse, 2019. "Paris Mayor Demands Black Feminist Festival that 'Prohibits' White People Be Banned," *The Guardian*. Accessed Jan. 12, 2019. www.theguardian.com/world/2017/may/29/paris-mayor-demands-black-feminist-festival-prohibits-white-people-banned-nyansapo
- Boittin, Jennifer Anne. 2015. *Colonial Metropolis: the Urban Grounds of Anti-imperialism and Feminism in Interwar Paris*. Omaha: University of Nebraska Press.
- Falola, Toyin and Kwame, Essien. 2015. *Pan-Africanism and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity*. London: Routledge.
- Garvey, Marcus. 1928. "Hon. Marcus Garvey, Writing from France, Discusses Treatment Accorded Negroes There and in Other Countries in the World," *The Negro World*. 24(27): 1.
- Germain, Félix F. 2016. *Decolonizing the Republic: african and Caribbean Migrants in Postwar Paris, 1946–1974*. East Lansing: Michigan State University Press.
- Hendrickson, Joy and Zaki, Hoda. 2013. "Pan-Africanism" in *Encyclopedia of Modern Political Thought*, ed. Gregory Claeys. Thousand Oaks: SAGE Publications. 614–615.
- Keaton, Trica Danielle. 2010. "The Politics of Race-Blindness: (Anti)blackness and Category-Blindness in Contemporary France," *Du Bois Review: Social Science Research on Race*. 7(01): 103–131.
- La Voix Des Nègres, Jan. 1927, 1.
- Le comité. Mar. 1927. "À Tous Nos Frères," *La Voix Des Nègres*. 1.
- Locke, Alain. Sept. 1924. "French Colonial Policy: open Letters," *Opportunity*. 2(21): 261–263.
- Locke, Alain. 1924. "The Black Watch on the Rhine," in *Opportunity: A Journal of Negro Life*. 2(13): 6–9.
- Maran, René. June 15, 1924. "Lettre Ouvert Au Professeur Alain-Leroy Locke," *Les Continents*. 1(3): 1.
- Morel, E.D. April 10, 1920. "Black Scourge in Europe," *Daily Herald*. 1.
- Mwasi. 2018. *Afrofem*. Paris: Éditions Syllepse.
- Mwasi: collectif afroféministe. <https://mwasicollectif.com> Accessed Jan. 12, 2019.
- Présence africaine. *Congrès International Des Écrivains Et Artistes Noirs*. 1956. Paris: Présence africaine.
- Semley, Lorelle. 2017. *To Be Free and French: citizenship in France's Atlantic Empire*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Sharpley-Whiting, T. Denean. 2003. *Negritude Women*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press.
- Umoren, Imaobong D. 2018. *Race Women Internationalists: activist-Intellectuals and Global Freedom Struggles*. Oakland: University of California Press.
- Walters, Ronald W. 2000. *Pan Africanism in the African Diaspora: an Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements*. Detroit: Wayne State University Press.

“Long Live African Women Wherever They Are!”

Black women’s Pan-African organizing
during the Black Power era

Ashley D. Farmer

In July 1972, Alberta Hill, a member of The East, a Brooklyn-based cultural nationalist organization, boarded a plane.¹ Looking to foster ties with African women abroad, the East Sisterhood—the women’s division of the organization—engaged in an ambitious fundraising campaign to send Hill to the All-Africa Women’s Conference (AAWC) in Dar es Salaam, Tanzania. A meeting designed to develop a collective identity and liberation agenda for women across the continent, the AAWC was a pivotal moment for defining women’s roles in Pan-African liberation. East Sisterhood members viewed Hill’s participation in the AAWC as a way to strengthen their Pan-African ties and political identities.²

Hill’s journey to Africa represented one of the many ways in which U.S.-based Black women practiced Pan-Africanism during the Black Power movement. In the 1960s, a record number of African countries gained their independence from European colonial powers. In the subsequent decade, self-governing countries including Tanzania and Ghana became paragons of Black Power’s potential. Motivated by rapid decolonization, Black Power activists increasingly situated their domestic organizing within the global context. They participated in a range of Pan-African-inspired protests and meetings including the AAWC, African Liberation Day (ALD), and the Sixth Pan-African Congress (Sixth PAC). Not only did these protests and summits bolster ties between domestic and international movements, they also served as conduits through which U.S.-based activists articulated their real and imagined identification with Africa and as Africans.

For Black women activists, this Pan-Africanist reawakening presented new opportunities to reshape ideas about Black womanhood across the globe. Although they had long been active in diasporically-minded struggles, patriarchal ideas about Pan-African liberation and leadership dominated conversations about global Black liberation. However, Black American women’s participation in international summits and increased contact with other women across the globe propelled their formulation of gender-conscious forms of Pan-Africanism. By the mid-1970s, they developed working-papers, speeches, and conference referenda that challenged monolithic and masculinist characterizations of Pan-Africanism and offered more holistic approaches to diasporic frameworks.

Pan-Africanism in the Black Power era

The Pan-African resurgence of the early 1970s was the latest iteration of Black activists' concerted interest in championing Black nationalism and self-determination around the globe. Stimulated by late twentieth-century African decolonization, U.S.-based Black Power activists framed their organizing as a link in the chain of global Black uprisings. In 1961, activists protested Congolese Prime Minister Patrice Lumumba's assassination at the UN. Burgeoning organizations such as the Student Non-Violent Coordinating Committee (SNCC) linked the fates of Blacks in Alabama and Africa through liberation schools and their International Affairs Commission—a policy wing designed to shift American perceptions and policies toward the African continent.³ Black Panther Party members continually asserted their support for anticolonial liberation struggles in South Africa, Zimbabwe, Mozambique, and Guinea-Bissau. Meanwhile, the U.S. Organization and the Committee for Unified Newark practiced Kawaïda—a cultural nationalist ideology aimed at repairing Black Americans' cultural connection to Africa.⁴

Events like African Liberation Day united students, Black nationalists, and other leftists under the banners of Pan-Africanism and anti-colonialism. The seeds of ALD germinated throughout the 1960s by way of globally minded protests, activist envoys to Africa, and Black Power organizers' communication with African leaders. In the early 1970s, Durham-based activist, Owusu Sadaukai (Howard Fuller), spearheaded the effort to bring the day-long, multi-city protest to fruition.⁵ Sadaukai suggested that U.S.-based activists hold a day of coordinated demonstrations in support of African independence and liberation struggles. In the waning months of 1971, activists announced plans for the first African Liberation Day.⁶

Black women across the country played a critical role in bringing ALD to fruition. Black Power icons and figureheads including Angela Davis and Malcolm X's widow, Betty Shabazz, were part of the steering committee.⁷ SNCC organizing Florence Tate, a member of the African Liberation Day Coordinating Committee (ALDCC), helped plan the day of multi-city protests.⁸ In early 1972, Tate was among the organizers that announced that marches would take place in multiple cities in "support of liberation efforts in Africa and in demonstration of solidarity between Africans born in the United States and Africans born on the continent."⁹ Washington, D.C. was to be the epicenter of the ALD protests, with additional demonstrations taking place in San Francisco, Toronto, Dominica, Antigua, Grenada, and other North American cities.¹⁰

On May 27, 1972, thousands demonstrated in support of African liberation, decolonization, and Black self-determination. Dressed in outfits adorned with African symbols and carrying signs declaring, "Africa for the Africans," the majority of ALD marchers participated in the Washington, D.C. protest during which they paraded to the Washington Monument by way of "Embassy Row where the governments of the United States, Portugal, Rhodesia and South Africa were denounced."¹¹ On monument grounds, overlooking a sea of black, green, and red flags, Black Panther Elaine Brown gave a rousing speech.¹² The Washington, D.C. march reached its zenith when thousands of participants, led by Sadaukai, chanted in unison: "We are an African People."¹³ One of the largest and most diverse Pan-African protests on American soil, the event countered claims of Black Americans' domestic-centered perspectives and foregrounded the potential of Pan-Africanism to unite groups and factions across the movement.

As protests like ALD generated Pan-Africanist sentiment they also engendered questions about women's role in Pan-African organizing. Black women were often the primary

organizers of Pan-African organizations and events. However, their participation rarely translated into adequate recognition of their diasporic perspectives. Instead, activists often charted the path to African redemption and liberation through the restoration of Black manhood, casting women as “propagations of male mythology,” or as mothers and molders of the African continent and its people.¹⁴ This patriarchal perspective produced discourses and iconography replete with rhetoric of Black men “emancipating” and “redeeming” “Mother Africa.”¹⁵ Moreover, Black Power activists designated intellectuals such as Kwame Nkrumah, Julius Nyerere, and Walter Rodney as the leaders of Pan-African movements, relegating women to traditional roles as rank-and-file organizers, nurturers, educators, and caregivers. This male-centered perspective often proffered a monolithic, masculine Pan-African community and lacked a clear recognition of women’s specific perspectives on global Black liberation.

Moreover, ALD organizing and symbolism was a manifestation of the complicated and, at times, contradictory debates over women’s roles in Pan-African organizing. As Fanon Che Wilkins explains, the ALDCC used the image of an African woman in indigenous clothing, with a baby in her arms and rifle on her back, as a symbol and advertisement for the protest. On the one hand, such imagery framed women as vital figures on the front lines of liberation struggles.¹⁶ On the other hand, these representations suggested that women should remain tethered to traditional roles such as motherhood. Similarly, Black women played critical organizational and ceremonial roles in the initial day-long protest; however, their participation and visibility did not result in an interrogation of the complicated gender politics embedded in the event or Pan-African organizing writ large.¹⁷ At subsequent international summits and conferences, Black women questioned this approach and developed more capacious ideas about Pan-Africanism and their roles within it.

Black women and the Sixth Pan-African Congress

As African Liberation Day developed, the idea to hold another Pan-African Congress also germinated within international organizing circles. Pan-African Congress meetings began at the turn of the century when activist-intellectuals such as W.E.B. Du Bois helped establish the meetings to secure the “political and civil rights for Africans and their descendants throughout the world.” The first five Congresses took place between 1900 and 1945 in Europe and North America.¹⁸ After the success of African Liberation Day, activists became convinced of the possibility and promise of a Congress on African soil. They envisioned the summit as a space in which to chart a course for the future of the decolonized Black world.

By the early 1970s, a small collective of U.S. and Caribbean-based organizers took concrete steps to make the next Congress a reality. Stateside, the SNCC-staffed Center for Black Education (CBE) was an epicenter of the Sixth PAC organizing.¹⁹ SNCC activists and CBE members such as Geri (Stark) Augusto, Judy Richardson, and Jennifer Lawson played a leading role in this early phase of organizing. Along with other locally and nationally known activists, they developed the organizational infrastructure for the Congress, managed the initial logistics of the meeting, established domestic and international offices for the event, and crafted the meetings’ guiding documents.²⁰

In the fall 1972, Augusto drafted the Sixth PAC Call to Congress.²¹ Heeding the advice of her mentor, Trinidadian intellectual C. L. R. James, she framed the twentieth century as the “Century of Black Power,” defined by “a unified conception of all peoples who have been colonized” and the “unparalleled degeneration” of “white power.” The goal of the Sixth PAC was to bring these groups together and channel their efforts into collective

programs to promote self-determination, political freedom, economic self-reliance, and anti-Western modes of social, political, and cultural organization. The "Call" also announced organizers' plans to "pursue the development of a Pan-African Science and Technology Centre ... designed to serve the vast needs of African people in the scientific and technology fields."²²

Black women from across the Americas answered the call. Sylvia Hill, then a professor at Macalester College, became the secretary-general for the North American region—which included the United States and Canada. Hill volunteered because she felt that it was time for Black Americans to "contribute to the transformation of Africa in terms of its fight against colonialism and apartheid."²³ As secretary-general, Hill organized the series of planning meetings designed to elect members of the North American Delegation and hammer out its platform. Once selected, Hill coordinated travel for the 250 participants from the United States.²⁴

Other women took part in the discussions and debates that shaped delegate selection and the positions that their region, and, eventually, the North American delegation would put forth at the Congress. The North America Region Planning Conference was the first step in this process. Nearly 200 activists from more than 40 organizations met in May 1973 at the Institute for African Affairs at Kent State University, to hear information about the Sixth PAC, address different viewpoints, and further develop delegate selection procedures. Attendees heard speeches from C.L.R. James, Sixth PAC Secretary General Courtland Cox, Owusu Sadaukai, and others. They then branched off into workshops to produce reports on liberation movements, health and nutrition, and political and educational support. Activists and organizers like Dr. Frances C. Welsing and Barbara Kamara chaired the Health and Nutrition Workshop, while other women focused on financial support.²⁵

A central point of contention at this and other planning meetings was whether racism or imperialism was the primary animator of global white supremacy and the driving force of Black oppression. Black Marxists and nationalists had been waging this "two-line struggle," or race versus class debate, since the start of the twentieth century.²⁶ During the Black Power movement, many organizers within groups such as the Black Panther Party and the Congress of African People began to openly embrace class-first approaches to Black liberation. Conversely, Black nationalists insisted on the particularity and pervasiveness of American-bred racism. In the eighteen months leading up to the Sixth PAC, these theoretical disagreements evolved into factional fissures, hung over pre-Congress talks, and fostered regional disputes.²⁷

Yet women refused to let their political participation and priorities get lost amid these ideological debates. They applied to be delegates, special guests, and observers at the conference and emphasized their interests in integrating their gender-specific concerns into delegation documents. Women such as Lois L. Johnson, a California-based lawyer, applied to be a delegate. Johnson indicated that her legal and finance experience made her qualified to assist the delegation in the areas of education and social science, political organizing, and international banking and finance.²⁸ Dara Abubakari (Virginia Y. Collins), a grassroots activist from New Orleans also applied. Drawing on her long history of organizing in local Pan-African groups, Abubakari indicated that she was expressly interested in focusing on "women's issues" at the Congress.²⁹

While some women applied to be delegates, others continued to plan the event at home and abroad. Judy Claude, Jo Ann Favors, Edie Wilson, Kathy Flewellen, and Geri Augusto formed a powerful activist cohort that helped bring the Congress to fruition. Claude, an experienced organizer with SNCC, participated in the early Sixth PAC planning

meetings in Washington, D.C.³⁰ Favors worked alongside Hill in the North American Delegation coordinating office in Saint Paul, Minnesota.³¹ Wilson, who began organizing with the CBE as a college student, travelled with Sixth PAC Secretary General Courtland Cox to West Africa to represent the Congress in the early planning stages.³² She later joined Kathy Flewellen and Geri Augusto in setting up the Sixth PAC International Secretariat in Dar es Salaam in November 1973. Augusto became an information officer and the official liaison with the anticolonial African nationalist organizations headquartered in Dar es Salaam.³³ Meanwhile, Flewellen and Wilson managed “everything from protocol to passports” in Tanzania. They also worked with the Tanzanian government to coordinate logistics, media coverage, fundraising initiatives, and the collection and distribution of delegation position papers.³⁴

Activists like Augusto also heralded the Congress’s promise to tackle patriarchy. In a May 1974 interview, she explained that, at the Sixth PAC, the “position of sisters throughout the African world [was] sure to be discussed.” Augusto continued: Some liberation movements use the term ‘National Reconstruction.’ Within that term is great significance because it implies a reconstruction of the nation physically, and a reconstruction of attitudes, values, systems of economic [sic] and politics, and culture...One of the facets of this kind of national reconstruction is [the] position of women.” Referencing the gender parity policies of some African liberation groups, Augusto argued that the “rest of the African World” was “behind” these groups in developing a gender-inclusive vision of Black liberation. She predicted that the Sixth PAC, largely due to the participation of women across the Diaspora, would be a constitutive moment for reshaping Pan-Africanist perceptions of gender roles and womanhood.³⁵

Augusto publicized the Congress’s progressive aspects amid mounting ideological and logistical tensions. Many participants had misgivings about the timing and purpose of the Congress. The delegate selection process was riddled with intensifying ideological divisions and accusations of elitism among Congress organizers.³⁶ Diplomatic tensions compounded procedural ones. Organizers originally conceived of the meeting as a non-governmental meeting with limited representation from heads of state. However, just weeks before the conference, the governing party of Tanzania, Tanganyika African National Union (TANU), decided that delegates had to be appointed by their respective countries in order to participate. The American and Canadian governments were not officially involved in the Congress, exempting delegates from these countries from adhering to this protocol. However, the policy barred militants, activists, and opposition groups from Antigua, Trinidad, Barbados, and other countries whose governments were key sponsors of the event.³⁷ Excluding certain activists, intellectuals, and nations shifted the character and ethos of the meeting, transforming it into a state-sanctioned event rather than a people’s convention.³⁸ The decision cost the Congress key supporters including Walter Rodney and C. L. R. James, the latter of which had played a pivotal role in legitimizing and developing the summit.

Nevertheless, the Sixth PAC, held from June 19–27, 1974, attracted delegates from across the globe. Participants heard opening speeches by Tanzanian President Julius Nyerere and Guinean President Sékou Touré.³⁹ As the gathering continued, delegates and observers participated in a range of workshops including “Political and Material Support for Liberation Movements” and “African Youth and Development.” In the afternoons, they convened in smaller committees to focus on “Economic Development through Self-Reliance,” “The Organization and the Use of Pan-African Technical Skills,” and “Technology and the Development of Natural Resources.”⁴⁰ After a week of debate, each delegation produced

a set of general declarations replete with their positions on economics, politics, science and technology, and gender roles.

The North American delegation was the largest contingent at the conference, with women composing a significant portion of the group.⁴¹ Activists such as Florence Tate attended workshops and committee sessions, while experienced organizers such as Audley Moore and Mae Mallory were special guests and observers at the meeting. Muriel Snowden, a Boston civil rights activist, was in attendance, as was Barbara Huell, a leader at Atlanta's Martin Luther King Jr. Community School. Other organizers in attendance included Dorothy Dewberry, a SNCC activist, Monica Steward, a student at Vassar College, and Alyce Gullat, a professor at Howard University. Women such as Bernetta Bush, another member of the North American Delegation, participated in the Sixth PAC because she believed that it "provided a vehicle which allow[ed] for significant interaction between African[s] and those of African descent around aspects of their struggle throughout the world."⁴²

As Augusto predicted, the question of women's roles in Pan-African organizing was a topic of debate. These conversations generated position papers aimed at reorienting participants' perspectives on women's rights and roles. Grenadian delegation representative Carl Buxe read "The Role of Women in the Struggle for Liberation," a statement summarizing Grenadian women's stance on gender equality within Pan-African liberation. In the document, they foregrounded the vital role women played in their country's independence struggle and lauded female freedom fighters in African liberation movements. They also stressed the importance of developing a malleable, gender-conscious definition of Pan-Africanism, warning that the "wholesale transplantation" of independence models across the Diaspora would have negative implications for newly freed Black nations and the women within them.⁴³ Other women, such as those in the Sierra Leone Delegation, called for a united effort in fighting sexism "through attitude formation, education, legislation, research and studies, seminars, and international conferences" including the Sixth PAC.⁴⁴

Women in the North American Delegation also developed documents aimed at redefining their identities and roles in Pan-African organizing. Records indicate that they presented working papers dedicated to debating the "Question of Women in the Struggle."⁴⁵ Participants framed the document as a set of observations about the changes needed to "ensure the fullest participation of [North American] women in the continuing struggle of African people."⁴⁶ To that end, they documented how organizers could disrupt patriarchal attitudes and practices. Chief among their suggestions was a call for activists' collective reorientation of their conceptualizations of Pan-African organizing and political work. North American Delegation women emphasized that no group could advance if they did not consider the ways in which "work must be organized so that women can actively participate." They also argued that there was a "deliberate need for support systems" including childcare and the political education of men, women, and children to "make a woman's work meaningful and productive toward the liberation of African people."⁴⁷ North American women ultimately called on activists to develop a small cell or cadre model of political organizing in order to further integrate women into Pan-African organizing and challenge traditional attitudes about women's work.

Delegation members also postulated that anti-intellectual characterizations of women impeded activists' ability to develop an accurate and nuanced Pan-Africanist theory. They maintained that "women's brains [were] able to conceptualize struggle as well as men's" and that they could discuss "ideology in a mixed audience just as easily as they [could] discuss ideology on a panel for [a] women's workshop or conference." The activists called for an end to the lionization of male theorists and a recognition that Black women were equally

capable of interpreting and formulating theories and frameworks for global Black liberation. Neglecting to acknowledge this, they argued, was “to deny [their] people and [the] cause half of its capacity for struggle.”⁴⁸ It was also to run the risk of adopting Pan-African schemas without interrogating their applicability to particular geo-political and gender-specific frames. Making ideological debate and development a central component of women’s roles would aid in organizers’ collective goal of developing a clear understanding of global Black struggle for their communities. Accordingly, the Sixth PAC participants insisted on Black women’s theoretical acuity and framed them as capable ideologues poised to develop a “correct” analysis of racism, imperialism, and Black struggle.

Changing attitudes about women’s ideological acumen also meant challenging their beliefs about Black manhood. Delegates argued that a clear and grounded theory of Pan-African liberation required healthy debate about Black Americans’ relationship and potential contributions to diasporic struggles. Such debate and consensus could only be achieved, they reasoned, if activists rejected conceptions of Black manhood that rested on men’s unquestioned monopoly on ideological leadership. The activists noted: if a man cannot be disagreed with for his manhood’s sake, and our womanhood’s sake, we develop paper tigers unable to engage in the realities of revolution. Everyone loses when [women] do not question, demand, and have input into the ideology espoused as the correct line for our people to follow.⁴⁹ Just as Black women needed to re-define their worldview and priorities in order to advance global Black liberation, so too did Pan-African liberation depend on men’s reorientation of their gendered political self-conception.

Some of these ideas would make their way into the North American Delegation’s official position on women presented at the end of the Congress. “Women’s Contribution to Pan-African Struggle,” a position paper included in the “General Summary of Positions” of the North American Delegation, that summarized delegates’ perspectives put forth throughout the meeting. A three-part document in which delegates enumerated Black women’s “ancient,” “modern,” and “future” contributions to Pan-African organizing, the resolution functioned as a referendum on women’s historical and contemporaneous exclusion within Congress documents and Pan-African organizing as well as an index of the delegation’s perceptions on women’s roles in global struggles.

The delegation opened the resolution by recapitulating the history of Black advancement through the lens of Black women’s activism and leadership. They framed the Diaspora as emerging from a singular African lineage that the “ancient African woman” advanced and refined. Delegates noted that historically, this woman “took her place as an equal in society in which she made many valid contributions to her family, as the mother of civilizations ... to warfare as an inventive tactician ... to economics as the mistress of the marketplace and the inventor of agriculture.” These contributions, they argued, positioned women of African descent at the vanguard of the Pan-African liberation struggle.⁵⁰

Participants then offered a litany of examples attesting to women’s “modern” efforts at sustaining and liberating the Diaspora. They emphasized how women had made their mark in the “area of politics,” citing the activism of women such as “Fannie Lou Hamer, Rosa Parks, Madame Cissie, Queen Mother Moore, and Shirley Dubois” as well as “the many African women who are soldiers in the liberation armies of Guinea Bissau and Mozambique.” The delegation credited women as being important “preserver[s] of health and a curer[s] of illness” and with playing a “vital role” in “the economic management of the community.” Summarizing Black women’s global, sustained, and holistic contributions to Pan-African struggle, they concluded that the Black woman’s role had “always been one of continuous contribution whenever and whenever the need arose. Her traditional role, as

a functional contributor to society as a whole, has reasserted itself even after 400 years of limitations, blunting of spirit and overt oppression."⁵¹

Delegates then used this history of Black women's activism as justification for their pronouncements about the role women should play in prospective Pan-African organizing. Going forward, they argued, "there should be a strong emphasis on the 'harmonious dualism' of pre-colonial African societies" or a "recreation of unity between men and women, a unity in which the African woman stands beside, not behind, not ahead of the African man." Delegates envisioned this unity as "characterized by [women's] mutual support and leadership in all spheres—home, battlefield, workforce, and community." They also suggested that Black women reaffirm their solidarity with "African women, and men, toward the end of self-determination and a strong united Africa by strengthening their 'commitment to and participation in the Pan-African liberation struggle' and by making 'concrete moves to eliminate racism, capitalism, imperialism, and neo-colonialism.'"⁵²

This final position paper reflected the North American Delegation's preoccupation with redefining Black women's roles in Pan-African organizing and the limitations of the American-centered Pan-African framework in achieving this goal. The first half of the resolution indicated an interest in acknowledging Black women as critical members of the historical and contemporary Pan-African community. The "ancient" contributions section notably recapitulated theories of a universal African past, while the "modern" contributions section framed U.S.-based Black women as global liberation leaders by rhetorically fusing their "modern" contributions with those of other women across the Diaspora, blurring the boundaries between the activism, goals, and identities of women across the Diaspora. This promoted a unified but falsely inscribed understanding of Pan-African identification and community among Black women. It also rhetorically situated U.S.-based women as leaders in the Diaspora's ongoing quest for cultural re-identification and self-determination.

In the "future recommendations" section, delegates once again attempted to reconcile their U.S.-centered view of Pan-Africanism with a more nuanced idea of women's roles. On the one hand, they supported the importance of women ascribing to an "African Value System" and an idealized understanding of "pre-colonial societies." Such frameworks, often promoted by U.S.-based cultural nationalist groups, offered the promise of "re-Africanization" without attending to the temporal, regional, and ethnic heterogeneity of African histories and cultures.⁵³ On the other hand, the document included statements that eschewed cultural and political abstraction and gestured toward a more nuanced interpretation of Pan-African identification based on analysis and coalition-building rather than imagined paternal ties. Delegates' prescriptions for women to invest their energies in "Pan-African solidarities" and "concrete" efforts to eliminate racism created openings for women to develop new understandings of Pan-Africanism rooted in their lived experiences with racism and imperialism and built on present political consensus rather than identifications with historical abstractions.

Other aspects of delegates' prognostications for the future of the Pan-African Woman were more progressive. The North American Delegation statement directly countered hierarchal concepts of gender roles imbedded in their existing Pan-African frameworks. The delegates' assertion that women stood "beside, not behind or ahead" of their male counterparts was an unequivocal statement of support for women's equality. Furthermore, their contention that women were leaders in "all spheres" of work challenged claims that women's "natural" roles were in the areas of childrearing and education.⁵⁴ Reporters covering the event for the Tanzania *Daily News* noted that, throughout the Congress, there was a consistent call for the Pan-African world to "do something about its

womenfolk.”⁵⁵ By the end of the Congress, North American Delegation members had responded, rhetorically disavowing hegemonic gender hierarchies and opening the door for future debates about reevaluating the centrality and scope of women’s contributions to Pan-African organizing.

The delegation’s resolutions reflected female activists’ concerted efforts to center and challenge debates about women’s roles from the planning stages of the Congress. Soon after Augusto drafted the “Call to Congress,” women across organizations and ideological affiliations responded, offering their support and organizational labor to make the meeting a success. Congress volunteers and delegates often also engaged in debates about redefining women’s roles in their respective activist circles and they brought this perspective to bear on their Congress work. In regional and national meetings, workshops, working papers, and formal resolutions, U.S.-based women asserted their centrality to past and present Pan-African projects, their investment in reformulating the intersection of Black womanhood and Pan-African praxis, and the importance of developing a holistic and inclusive concept of global Black liberation.

The Sixth PAC ended with a series of declarations rather than concrete political or social actions. At the close of Congress, the participants vowed to “completely restore the dignity of African people through the building of socialism” and to “exclude all racial, tribal, ethnic, and religious considerations in the development of Pan Africanism.”⁵⁶ This statement in support of the class side of the two-line struggle led many to conclude that the “Marxists were in command” of the event.⁵⁷ Delegates did not make provisions to create a permanent Pan-African secretariat nor did they establish a date and place for the next Congress. This lack of tangible outcomes or plans caused many to view the event as a tactical failure.⁵⁸

Nevertheless, the Sixth PAC did strengthen activist ties and bolster Pan-African organizing. The meeting offered the opportunity for organizers from North America to solidify real and imagined bonds with African countries and cultures and offer tangible support to African liberation groups. The North American Delegation brought 300 pounds of medicine for and donated blood to anti-colonial liberation fighters. As Sylvia Hill pointed out, “this was concrete support that did not just happen;” it was the result of coordinated efforts among Black peoples across the globe and fostered a shared sense of solidarity across ideological and factional lines. Organizers also noted that the Sixth PAC allowed North American delegates to “reaffirm [their] relations to [their] homeland,” and fostered their interest in further linking their movements for freedom throughout the Black world.⁵⁹ Although the Sixth PAC highlighted the impossibility of uniting the Diaspora under a singular, consolidated Pan-African agenda, it played an important role in cultivating global Black political consciousness through the creation and circulation of documents aimed at redefining and refining the future of Pan-African advocacy.

Congress participants’ final “Resolution on Black Women,” was an overlooked progressive outcome of the event. The collective statement passed at the end of the meeting was both an affirmation of women’s activism and a challenge to male-centered conceptions of Pan-Africanism. In this document, delegates maintained that Black women played a “key role” in “revolutionary struggles against imperialism and racism” and that they had “too often been relegated to inferior positions” in political struggle. In response, Congress delegates collectively proffered a set of resounding statements of support for women’s equality and inclusion in the Pan-African struggle. They announced their intent to give their “total support to the political struggles for equality undertaken by Black women” and called on “all the states and organisations participating in this Congress to tackle the problems of the oppression of women thoroughly and profoundly.”⁶⁰

If the goal of the Sixth PAC was to redefine Pan-Africanism in the twenty-first century, then this resolution reflected Black women's persistent claims that a male-centered conception of Pan-African identity and community was insufficient for the task at hand. In order to move to the next stage of struggle all members of the Pan-African community had to heed female delegates' advice of changing their "attitudes" about womanhood, manhood, and women's work *and* their insistence that Black women were uniquely situated, class and race-conscious political actors. Reflecting these debates and discussions, the "Resolution on Women" discursively linked Pan-African liberation and Black women's liberation rather than subsuming the latter in the former. The resolution also identified and named the intersecting racist, imperialist, and sexist forces at work in Black women's oppression and the importance of viewing women as political actors in their own rights. Ultimately, the document reflected female participants' efforts to problematize conventional constructions of diasporic peoples and their interest in forging new ones that did not rely on masculinist and essentialist interpretations of Pan-African identity or community.

Black women's participation in Pan-African events and meetings embodied the promise of their goals of personal and political redefinition. In striving to develop a new understanding of Pan-Africanism that could meet their needs as globally minded organizers, they intervened in male-dominated conversations about the contours of Pan-Africanism and men's and women's roles in diasporic struggle. Although they may have fallen short of completely upending prevailing Pan-Africanist frameworks, their speeches, position papers, and documents gestured toward dynamic alternatives to the static ideas of African unity that many leaders on both sides of the Atlantic promoted.

Chief among their claims was the idea that contemporaneous conceptualizations of Pan-Africanism suffered from more than just oversimplified ideas about race and class; they were also hampered by patriarchal interpretations of global liberation. U.S.-based activists were deeply entrenched in debates over the primacy of race or class in global liberation schemas. Black American women challenged this dichotomy at international meetings and events, refusing to assert the primacy of one form of oppression over the other, instead insisting that female Pan-Africanists should take a leading role in addressing the simultaneous manifestations of white domination. Not only did their political writings challenge the binary of the two-line struggle, they also injected an intersectional ethos into conversations about the contours of Pan-Africanism.

Black women's ideas about Pan-African womanhood also intervened in dominant, male-centered discourses about Pan-African subjectivity and liberation. In their speeches and working papers, these women directly disputed male leadership's claim to ideological and organizational authority and framed female Pan-Africanists as capable political actors and theorists. In the process, they disrupted historical and contemporary associations among nationalism, masculinity, and Pan-Africanism and highlighted the impossibility of subordinating the "woman question" when charting the future of global Black revolt.

Black women's participation at the Congress indicates that their interest in integrating Pan-Africanism and their gender-specific concerns galvanized women across the organizing spectrum. Through events like ALD and the Sixth PAC Black women activists reconciled their political imaginings of the Diaspora with their, and other women's, lived experiences. These international summits also became spaces in which these activists could redefine their roles in U.S.-centered organizing and experiment with new ideas about their self-development and political self-conception outside of male-led and male-centered spaces. If, in the 1970s, Black Power activists embraced Pan-Africanism as a higher and more rigorous emancipatory framework, then Black women argued that their schemas had to incorporate

a more equitable and nuanced conception of women's roles and goals in order to reach the next plane of ideological and political struggle. Their speeches, working papers, and resolutions proffered intersectional approaches Pan-Africanist theorizing and mobilization for Black Power activists to adopt.

Notes

- 1 For more information see: Kwasi Konadu, *A View from The East: Black Cultural Nationalism and Education in New York City* (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 2009).
- 2 Alberta Hill, "All-Africa Women's Conference, Dar-es-Salaam, Tanzania," *Black News*, November 1, 1972, 22.
- 3 James Forman, *The Making of Black Revolutionaries* (Seattle: University of Washington Press, 1997), 455; 481; Fanon Che Wilkins, "The Making of Black Internationalists: SNCC and Africa Before the Launching of Black Power, 1961–1965," *Journal of African American History* 92:4 (2007): 468–491, "International Seminar On Apartheid Racial Discrimination and Colonialism in Southern Africa," ComStoBox 25, Folder Mae Jackson South Africa, Gwen Patton Collection, H. Council Trenholm State Technical College, Montgomery, Alabama.
- 4 For more information see: *The Black Panther* newspaper; Scot Brown, *Fighting for US: Maulana Karenga, the US Organization, and Black Cultural Nationalism* (New York: New York University Press, 2005); Komozi Woodard, *A Nation in a Nation: Amiri Baraka (LeRoi Jones) and Black Power Politics* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000).
- 5 Russell Rickford, *We Are an African People: Independent Education, Black Power, and the Radical Imagination* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2016), 168–89.
- 6 Woodard, *A Nation within a Nation*, 173–75; Fanon Che Wilkins, "'In the Belly of the Beast': Black Power, Anti-imperialism, and the African Liberation Solidarity Movement, 1968–1975" (Ph.D. diss., New York University, 2001), 134–136.
- 7 "Locals Back African Liberation Day Rallies," *Pittsburgh Courier*, April 1, 1972, 8.
- 8 Cedric Johnson, *Revolutionaries to Race Leaders: Black Power and the Making of African American Politics* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2007), 190.
- 9 "Liberation Day Demonstrations Set for D.C., May 27th," *New York Amsterdam News*, April 15, 1972, A10; Cedric Johnson, "From Popular Anti-Imperialism to Sectarianism: The African Liberation Support Committee and Black Power Radicals," *New Political Science* 25:4 (December 2003): 489.
- 10 "African Liberation Day," *Contrast*, June 15, 1972, 1.
- 11 "12,000 Blacks March to Support Africa," *Washington Post*, May 28, 1972, A1.
- 12 "ALD: Mass Expression to Learn and Support," *African World*, June 10, 1972, 12; "African Liberation Day Speakers," *African World*, June 10, 1972, 11.
- 13 Rickford, *We Are an African People*, 252; Woodard, *A Nation within a Nation*, 179. Other marches took place in Pittsburg, St. Louis, Toronto, and San Francisco, among other locations. For more information see: "Locals Back African Liberation Day Rallies," *New Pittsburg Courier*, April 1, 1972, 8; "Liberation Day Planned in Bay Area," *Los Angeles Sentinel*, May 25, 1972, A12.
- 14 Brinda Mehta, "Images of Exile and the Female Condition in Nawal El Saadawi's *The Fall of the Imam and Memories from the Women's Prison*," in *Migration Words and Worlds: Pan-Africanism Updated* eds. E. Anthony Hurley, Renée Larrier, and Joseph McLaren (Trenton, NJ: African World Press, 1999), 35–36.
- 15 Sidney J. Lemelle and Robin D.G. Kelley, "Introduction, Imagining Home: Pan-Africanism Revisited." In *Imagining Home: Class, Culture, and Nationalism in the African Diaspora*, in Sidney J. Lemelle and Robin D.G. Kelley eds. (New York: Verso, 1995), 4.
- 16 Wilkins, "'In the Belly of the Beast,'" 150; Rickford, *We Are an African People*, 182–183.
- 17 M. Bahati Kuumba, "Engendering the Pan-African Movement: Field Notes from the All-Africa Women's Revolutionary Union," in *Still Lifting, Still Climbing: African American Women's Contemporary Activism*, ed. Kimberly Springer (New York: New York University Press, 1999), 171.
- 18 Marika Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953: What did 'Pan-Africanism' Mean?" *The Journal of Pan African Studies* 4:10 (January 2012): 107.

- 19 James Garrett, "A Historical Sketch: The Sixth Pan-African Congress," *Black World* (March 1975), 4; Fanon Che Wilkins, "'A Line of Steel: the Organization of the Sixth Pan-African Congress and the Struggle for International Black Power, 1969–1974,' in *The Hidden 1970s: Histories of Radicalism*, edited by Dan Berger, New Brunswick: Rutgers University Press, 2010, 97–114.
- 20 Seth M. Markle, "'We Are Not Tourists': The Black Power Movement and the Making of Socialist Tanzania, 1960–1974," (Ph.D. diss., New York University, 2011), 244–245.
- 21 Geri Stark Augusto, Interview with Author, November 28, 2015. Charles Cobb, interview with Geri Augusto, *No Easy Victories*, www.noeasyvictories.org/interviews/int10_augusto.php.
- 22 "The Call to the Sixth Pan African Congress," in *Resolutions and Selected Speeches from the Sixth Pan-African Congress* (Dar es Salaam: Tanzania Publishing House, 1976), 219–222.
- 23 LaTaSha Levy, "Remembering Sixth-PAC: Interviews with Sylvia Hill and Judy Claude, Organizers of the Sixth Pan-African Congress," *The Black Scholar*, 37:4 (Winter 2008): 41.
- 24 Sylvia Hill, interview with author, August 3, 2010; Memo from Sylvia Hill, Secretary-General to State/District Contact Person Responsible for Distribution of This Application and Questionnaire," December 19, 1973; Folder 21, Box 6, Sixth Pan-African Congress Records, Moorland-Springarn Research Center, Howard University, Washington, D.C. Hereafter referred to as 6PAC Records.
- 25 "North American Region Planning Conference Report," Folder 64, Box 6, 6PAC Records.
- 26 For more information, see: Roderick D. Bush, *We Are Not What We Seem: Black Nationalism and Class Struggle in the American Century*. New York: New York University Press, 1999.
- 27 Lerone Bennett Jr., "Pan-Africanism at the Crossroads," *Ebony*, September 1974, 148–150; Rickford, *We Are an African People*, 225–228.
- 28 "Sixth Pan African Congress Delegate/Observer Questionnaire Application: Lois L. Johnson," Folder 35, Box 1, 6PAC Records.
- 29 "Sixth Pan African Congress Delegate/Observer Questionnaire Application: Mrs. Virginia E. Y. Collins," Folder 16, Box 1, 6PAC Records.
- 30 Judy Claude, "Some Personal Reflections on the Sixth Pan-African Congress," *Black Scholar* 37:4 (2008): 48–49.
- 31 Ibid.
- 32 Markle, "'We Are Not Tourists,'" 259; Letter from Courtland Cox to Sylvia Hill, March 18, 1974, Folder 4, Box 4, 6PAC Records.
- 33 Markle, "'We Are Not Tourists,'" 259–60; Geri Stark Augusto, interview with author.
- 34 Markle, "'We Are Not Tourists,'" 259; Publicity Release, 17 January, 1974, Folder 85, Box 3, 6PAC Records.
- 35 "Interview with Conf. Official: Sixth Pan African Congress in Tanzania," *African World*, May 31, 1974, 5.
- 36 Letter from Julian Elison to Courtland Cox, July 23, 1973, Folder 3, Box 4, 6PAC Records; Imamu Amiri Baraka, "Some Questions About the Sixth Pan-African Congress," *Black Scholar*, 6:2 (October 1974): 42–46.
- 37 Wilkins, "'A Line of Steel,'" 106; "Caribbean Radicals out of Dar Talks," *Daily News* (Tanzania), June 13, 1974, 2.
- 38 Garrett, "A Historical Sketch," 20; Walter Rodney, "Towards the Sixth Pan-African Congress: Aspects of the International Class Struggle in Africa, the Caribbean, and Latin America," (Atlanta, GA: Institute for the Black World, 1975).
- 39 Hoyt W. Fuller, "Notes from A Sixth-Pan-African Journal," *Black World* (October 1974): 73–74; Sixth Pan-African Congress Program, Box 1, Folder 22a, Muriel S. and Otto P. Snowden Papers, Archives and Special Collections, Northeastern University Library, Boston, Massachusetts. Hereafter referred to as the Snowden Papers.
- 40 Sixth Pan-African Congress Program, Box 1, Folder 22a, Snowden Papers.
- 41 "Congress Participants," Folder 3, Box 3, 6PAC Records.
- 42 "Immigration Form for Special Guests: Audley Moore," Folder 142, Box 2, 6PAC Records; "Sixth PAC: North American Women," *Daily News (Tanzania)*, June 26, 1974, 4. For Muriel Snowden's participation in Sixth PAC see Box 1, Folders 21–22, Snowden Papers; "North America Regional Delegates- Georgia," North America Regional Delegates- Michigan," Folder 2, Box 3, 6PAC Records; "10 Chicago Blacks Will Attend Parley in Tanzania," *Chicago Tribune*, June 13, 1974, N2; "Sixth PAC: North American Women," 4.
- 43 "The Role of Women in the Struggle for Liberation," Folder 32, Box 4, 6PAC Records.
- 44 "Women's Contribution to Pan African Struggle," Folder 32, Box 4, 6PAC Records.

- 45 List of Papers presented at workshops on “Women in the Struggle,” Folder 32, Box, 6PAC Records.
- 46 “Untitled Position Paper,” Folder 11, Box 7, 6PAC Records.
- 47 Ibid.
- 48 Ibid.
- 49 Ibid.
- 50 Committee C: General Summary of position and resolutions of North America, “Women’s Contribution to the Pan-African Struggle,” Box 9, Folder 1, Cleveland L. Sellers, Jr. Papers, Avery Research Center for African American History and Culture, College of Charleston, Charleston, South Carolina.
- 51 Ibid.
- 52 Ibid.
- 53 Ashley D. Farmer, *Remaking Black Power: How Black Women Transformed an Era* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2017), 136; Rickford, *We Are an African People*, 153–56.
- 54 “Women’s Contribution to the Pan-African Struggle.”
- 55 “Comment,” *Daily News (Tanzania)*, June 25, 1974, 1.
- 56 “PAC Must Be Dynamic—Plea,” *Daily News (Tanzania)*, June 28, 1974, 1.
- 57 Haki Madhubuti, “Sixth Pan-Afrikan Congress: What is Being Done to Save the Black Race,” *Black Books Bulletin* 2 (Fall 1974): 48.
- 58 “‘Failures’ Mar 6th Pan African Congress,” *Afro American*, July 27, 1974, 16; “Pilgrimage Reflections—II: 6th Pan African Congress,” *Los Angeles Sentinel*, July 18, 1974, A7; “Pan-African Congress Falls Short in Action and Policy,” *Chicago Defender*, July 18, 1974, 12.
- 59 Sylvia Hill, “Observations on the Sixth Pan-African Congress,” Folder 63, Box 6, 6PAC Records.
- 60 “Resolution on Women,” Folder 4, Box 7, 6PAC Records. An edited version of this document was reprinted in the *Resolutions and Selected Speeches* anthology published by the Tanzania Press. See: “Resolution on Black Women,” in *Resolutions and Selected Speeches*, 197.

Part IV

Pan-Africanism in Africa



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Pan-Africanist in the court

W. E. B. Du Bois and his vision of Ethiopian internationalism

Fikru Negash Gebrekidan

Introduction

One of the least studied legacies of W. E. B. Du Bois, as a preeminent Pan-Africanist and a scholar, is the collection of his writings on Ethiopia that spanned four decades. His essays on the East African nation appeared throughout the first half of the twentieth century as newspaper columns, journal articles, and book chapters. In tones alternating between romanticist, scholarly, polemical, and even prophetic, they provided a kaleidoscopic picture of country and people. At the personal level, Du Bois corresponded with high-ranking Ethiopian government officials, challenging their sense of parochialism or traditional worldview. In 1930 and 1948, for example, he advised that Ethiopia play host to a major Pan-African conference. He could not have been more prescient. In May 1963, a meeting in Addis Ababa between the newly independent African states resulted in the creation of the Organization of African Unity, a feat that few had then thought possible.¹

This essay serves a few purposes. Since biographers have yet to appreciate the extent of Du Bois's involvement with Africa, let alone Ethiopia, it fills a gap in the fast-growing Du Boisian historiography. For students of Pan-Africanism, it goes a step further. The chapter demonstrates how much Du Bois was involved in the framing of Ethiopian independence as the fulcrum of Pan-African politics. It also credits Du Bois as a major catalyst in the broadening of the Ethiopian national imagination during the first half of the twentieth century. The chapter's last section concludes with a discussion on Du Bois's Pan-African legacy to Ethiopian studies, an area where the Eurocentric worldview still prevails.²

Pan-Africanism after Paris

David Levering Lewis closes the first volume of his Pulitzer prize-winning biography on Du Bois with the year 1919. Du Bois was born in Great Barrington, Massachusetts, in 1868, and died in Accra, Ghana, in 1963 at the age of ninety five. The 1919 Pan-African Congress, held in Paris, France, with fifty eight delegates in attendance, marked Du Bois's metamorphosis from a national civil rights activist to a global anticolonial crusader. The Atlanta University professor had attended the 1900 Pan-African Conference in London as an ordinary

guest. Nineteen years later, he himself would convene the Paris race gathering, cited in most history textbooks as the first of a series of Pan-African congresses. The year 1919 was, in this regard, much more than a convenient point of transition between the two halves of a biography. It represented the coming of age of an icon at the international level, especially as pertained to the politics of empire and colonialism.³

The year 1919 can also be used to mark a shift in Du Bois's thinking about the Horn of Africa. Du Bois's 1895 PhD dissertation at Harvard University, which appeared as a book monograph the next year, was a study of the rise and fall of the transatlantic slave trade. The Red Sea and the Indian Ocean world came under purview much later. Du Bois included an obituary of Emperor Menelik in the February 1914 issue of the *Crisis*, the monthly publication of the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People (NAACP). The news was a couple of months old, not to mention that it erroneously placed the Battle of Adwa in the year 1893 instead of 1896.⁴ In 1915 followed a two-part treatment of Northeast Africa in Du Bois's widely read historical work, *The Negro*. In the first, the author provided a detailed sketch of the history of the ancient Nile valley civilizations, using it as a trope to debunk the Hegelian thesis of static Africa. In the second, the attention shifted to modern Ethiopia, for which the name Abyssinia was exclusively reserved, and which only took up a few paragraphs.⁵

It is against this background that 1919 facilitated the two instances that brought East Africa closer to home. The first was the aforementioned Pan-African gathering in Paris, held from February 19 to February 22 that year. If Senegalese Blaise Diagne, member of the French Chamber of Deputies, cut a figure as the most senior public official at the four-day meeting, Dr. Joseph Vitalien of Martinique stood out as its most worldly traveled. The West Indian medical doctor had spent an entire decade in Ethiopia serving in various capacities, including as Emperor Menelik's court physician. On this occasion he represented Ethiopian interests, a fact that warranted mention at least in one of Du Bois's correspondence years later.⁶

The second opportunity unfolded a few months later. In July, a four-man Ethiopian mission arrived in New York, Du Bois's adopted hometown, bearing messages of congratulations to Americans whose sacrifice made the recent war victory possible. The delegation consisted of Dejazmatch Nadew, head of the mission; Kentiba Gebru Desta, interpreter; Heruy Woldeeslassie, mayor of Addis Ababa and would-be foreign minister; and Persian-born Sinke, Nadew's secretary. Bound by the age-old custom of *primus inter pares*, State Department staff received the olive-colored visitors with deference. But when Du Bois, editor of the *Crisis*, wrote to the State Department for a chance to meet with the guests, he was simply ignored. Undaunted, the September issue of the *Crisis* produced a brief report on the Abyssinian mission, which the October edition expanded into a full-feature article with a background picture of the men in traditional outfits.⁷

Henceforth, Ethiopia was no longer an abstract relic of a distant past, and few years would go by without Du Bois corresponding on Ethiopian matters. In 1921, for instance, Du Bois wrote to Kentiba Gebru in Addis Ababa, asking that his government send delegates to the second Pan-African Congress in London and Brussels.⁸ When no response came forth, Du Bois turned to a missionary group in nearby Sudan for help. P. A. Hamilton of the British and Foreign Bible Society in Khartoum had been receiving five copies of the *Crisis* every month for local distribution. "I want American Negroes to help in the development of Abyssinia," Du Bois pleaded. "I want Abyssinia to know about the Pan-African

Congress. How can all this best be accomplished? With what influential persons can I get into correspondence?"⁹

The pursuit paid off in the long-term but in a less roundabout way. In July 1930, a memo from Professor Alain Locke alerted Du Bois of the upcoming call to his office by two eminent Ethiopians.¹⁰ At seventy five, the now-familiar Gebru was on his way to the United States to negotiate a loan for a dam project, or a barrage, at the mouth of Lake Tana where the Blue Nile began its long meandering course.¹¹ Serving as his assistant was Malaku Bayen, a graduate student at Howard University Medical School. During a stop in Paris the Ethiopians had caught up with Professor Locke, one of Bayen's mentors, whose letter of introduction they solicited. Du Bois was elated by Locke's message. "Recently, there were rumors of a commission of Abyssinians coming here which was to visit me but I have seen nothing of it," he was to confide to a friend even before a fortnight had lapsed since receipt of the news.¹²

By mid-August, Bayen and Gebru had been heard of. At least once, possibly twice, they had called on 69 Fifth Avenue, the Manhattan address of the NAACP headquarters. Du Bois's follow-up missive to them began with a recognition of what he felt was a historic moment: "I wish to assure you, first, of my personal gratification at coming for the first time in direct communication with Ethiopia."¹³ An eight-page draft, or a memorandum, was enclosed. The document opened with highlights of African American achievements: a rich tradition of resistance, ongoing struggle for civil rights, contributions to arts and literature, and vibrant institutions of higher learning and economic life. An outline of the preceding Pan-African congresses and their outcomes came next, followed by some analysis of the European domination of world economy through the manipulation of capital, credit, and patent laws. Regarding international politics, tips on tactical positions were offered, such as the need for the anticolonial forces in Africa and Asia to reach out to the anti-imperial powers of Germany and the Soviet Union.¹⁴

Ethiopia needed to embrace the gold standard for the sake of a stable currency, the memorandum advised. Along with that, the government had to modernize the national economy, such as by keeping records of income and expenditure, as well as by creating a national banking and credit system. When negotiating with foreign powers, its experts had to watch for any sugar-coated costly business dealings. They had to learn from the negative examples of China, Egypt, and Algeria, countries whose national sovereignty was compromised because of the debt trap set by Western financial institutions. "Usually, loans to colored countries are for political effect with the idea that they are not going to be paid and that eventually the creditor country can foreclose and secure political control," Du Bois forewarned. "Such loans are, of course, highly dangerous and Ethiopia, I am sure, would not consider them."¹⁵

A modernizing country needed to enrich its human capital, the recommendations continued. Until universities and vocational centers began producing local graduates, the talented tenth, Ethiopia had to make do with imported expertise. "Here the American Negro could be of the greatest use," Du Bois proposed. "An electrical engineer has already applied to me and is ready to go to Ethiopia at any time," he noted, adding: "It would be possible within the next ten years to furnish at least five hundred technicians for the development of Ethiopia from the United States alone."¹⁶ Finally, the New Englander advised that the delegates, Gebru and Bayen, organize in New York and Washington as many brainstorming sessions as possible before heading back home. "Then, a fifth Pan-African Congress should be called to meet, not later than 1932, at Addis Ababa, and at this Congress efforts should be made to have the leading groups of Africans of the world represented."¹⁷

Out of the Du Bois–Gebru encounter rose cutting-edge ideas but without the means of implementing them. No Pan-African meeting took place in Addis Ababa in 1932, although the vision would inspire the establishment of the Organization of African Unity in the said city thirty years later. Neither did Du Bois’s alternative business plan prove more workable. Erring on the side of pragmatism, the memorandum had suggested that loans be sought out from the private banks of Germany and the United States, countries that posed few risks of colonial entanglement. Du Bois had even offered to liaise between the Ethiopian delegates and the Harlem-based Dunbar National Bank. “A delegation from Abyssinia has visited me twice for information and advice,” he wrote, requesting a meeting with bank president Charles Huitt. Huitt obliged but his response arrived too late, perhaps a day or two after Du Bois had already declared the initiative a failure. “The more I think of it the more I am convinced that nothing can be done with the banks of the United States at present,” his message of August 21 to Gebru and Bayen had concluded.¹⁸

Lack of patience notwithstanding, the memorandum was a document of practical consequences. In 1931, Haile Selassie liquidated the foreign-owned Bank of Abyssinia, considered a factor in the country’s worsening financial woes, including the unfair balance of trade because of a weakened Maria Theresa thaler. In its place was established the government-owned National Bank of Ethiopia, much of the initial capital having been raised by the Emperor himself.¹⁹ Loan negotiations for the dam construction discreetly ceased, a cautionary measure against involvement with the predatory multinationals. Foreign Minister Heruy Woldelessie visited Japan in 1931, while Ethiopia continued to cultivate tactical alliances with prewar Germany. This *de facto* policy of nonalignment would continue into the Cold War decades, during which Haile Selassie commanded as many fans behind the Iron Curtain as he did in the Western capitals.²⁰

The August meeting was a milestone in another aspect. It opened a channel of communication between the NAACP officer and the Howard University student Malaku Bayen, Ethiopia’s *de facto* representative in the United States. Bayen, who broke his engagement to the daughter of a government minister in order to marry an African American schoolmate, Dorothy Hadley of Evanston, Illinois, would prove to be a uniquely gifted Pan-African interlocutor. In September 1931, Du Bois had written to Emperor Haile Selassie requesting for a short uplifting message that the *Crisis* could publish in its upcoming November issue, which was to be dedicated to the celebration of its twenty first anniversary.²¹ Knowing the Ethiopian palace protocol of not responding to personal communications, Bayen had to intervene. “You can be assured that His Majesty is very much interested in your movement,” he counselled, “and even if you do not hear from him, you should never think it would be a lack of interest.”²²

Du Bois and the Italo-Ethiopian war

In 1934, Du Bois resigned from the *Crisis* because of long-standing ideological differences with the NAACP executive board. A professorial job offer from Atlanta University filled the void. The next year saw the launching of the *Negro Encyclopedia* project, later renamed *Encyclopedia Africana*. Among the many prominent scholars Du Bois assembled for the task included Willis Huggins of New York City, then working on a monograph on Ethiopian history;²³ as well as William Leo Hansberry, sometimes known as the North American godfather of Ethiopian studies because of his role as co-founder of the Ethiopian Research Council at Howard University.²⁴ Caught up in a vortex of academic intrigue and institutional racism, Phelps Stokes and Carnegie Corporation reneged on their financial promise to

the encyclopedia, and the collaborative venture failed despite years of preliminary work. The vision did not totally expire, however, and *Encyclopedia Africana* would become a reality in 1999 under the joint editorial stewardship of Henry Louis Gates and Anthony Kwame Apiah.²⁵

For decades, Du Bois had pursued his Pan-African agenda from the NAACP headquarters in New York City. He enjoyed the benefit of a seasoned secretarial staff on top of a comfortable salary that the revenue from the *Crisis* made possible. Against that, Atlanta's provincialism came as anticlimactic to Du Bois's involvement in international politics. In the summer and fall of 1935, at a time when the pro-Ethiopian mobilization in the Northern cities needed to rally around a national persona, physical distance discouraged Du Bois from stepping up to the plate. The recent fallout between him and the NAACP did not help either. When Walter White, the new executive secretary, suggested that Du Bois join a committee of preeminent Americans to take up Ethiopia's plight in the White House, the ex-editor excused himself claiming a busy work schedule.²⁶

As a private citizen, on the other hand, Du Bois remained a leading voice in the save-Ethiopia campaign. He was one of the featured speakers at Madison Square Garden in September, attended by over seven thousand New Yorkers.²⁷ In January and February 1936, while on a winter recess from Atlanta University, he lectured to pro-Ethiopian gatherings at several Northeastern and Midwestern cities: Boston, Worcester, Buffalo, the District of Columbia, Chicago, and Peoria (Illinois), where he was also heard on a local radio station.²⁸

His major literary contribution, before being serialized by the *Pittsburgh Courier*, appeared as a journal article in the influential *Foreign Affairs*. "Inter-Racial Implication of the Ethiopian Crisis: A Negro View" was as much about the author's own divergent frame of thought in the last third of his life as it was about Ethiopia. The scholar who once railed against race nationalists and social separatists now combined Marxian and racist critiques of the war. It was an evolving, at times contradictory, worldview that Du Bois fully expounded in his seminal masterpiece of the same year: *Black Reconstruction*.²⁹

The search for resources and markets fueled modern-day colonial conquests, Du Bois explained, presenting race and racism as consequent byproducts. A decade ahead of Eric Williams's *Slavery and Capitalism*, he stood on its head the claim that racial arrogance drove European overseas expansion. He argued, instead, that "the profit from exploitation was the main reason for the belief in race difference."³⁰ To proponents of Rome's civilizing mission who made much of Ethiopian slavery, Du Bois drew attention to the more heinous Atlantic system in which an entire group of human beings was reduced to a chattel. Even then, two wrongs never made right, and Italy's unprovoked bellicosity was bound to destabilize the world further: "But if Italy takes her pound of flesh by force, does anyone suppose that Germany will not make a similar attempt?"³¹

Digressing from the orthodox analysis of class struggle, the professor saw racial nationalism as the natural pivot of anticolonial resistance. Even if Western powers had not discreetly lined up behind Italy, there were enough reasons why a worldwide Pan-African mobilization was inevitable, Du Bois reasoned. Ethiopian defeat signaled a collective racial tragedy, the ultimate triumph of whites over blacks. Of the three nominally independent black republics, only the East African nation had a promising economic potential. Liberia, whose diminishing sovereignty Du Bois had lamented in an earlier essay, was a de facto real estate property of the Firestone Corporation.³² Haiti, emerging out of two decades of American military rule, was left prostrate by international debts it could not repay for generations. "Ethiopia, on the other hand, had kept comparatively free of debt, had preserved her political autonomy, had

begun to reorganize her ancient polity, and was in many ways an example and a promise of what a native people untouched by modern exploitation and race prejudice might do.”³³

The ten-page essay foresaw an imminent Italian battlefield victory given the absolute superiority of its modern war machine. Yet the war was unlike previous wars, it cautioned, anticipating an unprecedented tumult in international race relations. In India, disillusionment with British rule would escalate to the point of compromising Gandhi’s strategy of passive resistance. China and Japan would reconcile cultural differences and form a formidable East Asian bloc. And across Africa and the West Indies, whose political dynamics Du Bois understood much better, even the most optimistic of black intellectuals would lose faith in the emancipating power of European liberalism and join full heartedly in their respective nationalist struggles for self-determination.³⁴

The millenarian tone proved too hyperbolic. Pro-Ethiopian sympathies in Asia and Africa did not translate into a mass uprising. In forecasting a Sino-Japanese rapprochement as a bulwark against white universalism, the *Foreign Affairs* article overstated the utilitarian value of Pan-Asianism. More poignantly, the proposition underestimated the extent of Tokyo’s war atrocities in China, which in the final analysis were no less barbarous than that of Rome’s in Africa.³⁵

In other respects, however, Du Bois’s observations were insightful, even prophetic. In Anglophone Africa and the West Indies, elites would enter a new phase of political radicalization from the mid-1930s on. In fact, in the political maelstrom of the second Italo-Ethiopian war was much more than a turning point in modern African nationalism. Out of the weakened League of Nations and the fading significance of international law would rise a rearmed and bellicose Germany intent on world domination. In the eighth volume of UNESCO’s *General History of Africa*, the late Ali Mazrui would trace the beginning of World War II to the year 1935, affirming Du Bois’s position on the Ethiopian crisis as a defining moment in mid-century world history.³⁶

In June 1936, a research grant from the Oberlaender Trust took Du Bois on a seven-month study tour across Western Europe, the Soviet Union, China, and Japan.³⁷ By the time the peripatetic returned to his home base in January 1937, much had transpired in the African scene. With the major figures in the Ethiopian patriotic resistance (the Black Lions) killed or captured, Mussolini’s dream of an East African empire had all but prevailed. In North America, infighting over money plagued the vocal pro-Ethiopian groups, among them Willis Huggins’s Friends of Ethiopia.³⁸ Elsewhere, mainstream media turned its attention to recent European crises, such as the rearming of Germany and the civil war in Spain. The world, in other words, had accepted Ethiopia’s capitulation as a *fait accompli*, and Du Bois’s reaction was no different.

If there emerged a North American exception, it was the Harlem-based Ethiopian World Federation (EWF), an umbrella movement founded and led by Dr. Malaku Bayen. Bayen had been studying in the United States since 1922, at times serving as his government’s *de facto* representative in North America. Along with his African American wife and their two-year-old son, Malaku, Jr., the newly minted medical doctor returned to Addis Ababa in August 1935 to start his residency at the American mission hospital. The outbreak of hostilities a couple of months later saw the intern leave for the warfront as a Red Cross volunteer. A year later, the Bayens were back in New York so as to coordinate the propaganda work on behalf of the exiled Ethiopian government. Centralized fundraising drives such as the Save-Ethiopia stamp campaign enabled their newly formed EWF to thrive. Thanks to its weekly *Voice of Ethiopia*, with which it kept thousands of readers abreast of national and international news, including developments from the

Ethiopian warfront, EWF branches, or locals, soon sprouted in several cities across the United States and the West Indies.

Intermittent communications kept Du Bois in touch with EWF's editorial team. On July 10, 1939, Bayen wrote to Du Bois, thanking him for his recent interview with the *Voice of Ethiopia* and enclosing the photograph taken of him on the occasion. Another letter in January 1940 requested for some uplifting words from the sage in acknowledgement of the paper's completion of three years of uninterrupted circulation. The message did not reach the Atlanta professor in time for the anniversary note. Still, in his February reply, the latter expressed his good wishes: "You have, as you know, my deep sympathy in your work and my wish for its success."³⁹

The next time Du Bois remembered the founder of the EWF, it was in the form of a eulogy. After struggling with lobar pneumonia and bouts of nervous breakdown, the medical doctor turned activist had passed away at an Upstate New York sanitarium on May 4, 1940. Prominent civil rights leaders from Mary Church Terrell to A. Philip Randolph, as well as several newspapers including the *New York Times*, expressed condolences. "He was an Ambassador of Pan-Africanism in a singularly happy sense," Du Bois's tribute read, describing Bayen as a bridge of two cultures. "Then came war, conquest and disaster. He struggled bravely and died in his fortieth year from what men call pneumonia and angels know as a broken heart."⁴⁰

The year 1940 was, indeed, an ominous year in Pan-Africanist circles. Marcus Garvey, who was never short of admirers despite his contrarian position on the Italo-Ethiopian war, died in his London home on June 10.⁴¹ Huggins, the other pro-Ethiopian turned detractor, mysteriously disappeared in December, his body found in the Hudson River several months later.⁴² The most serious blow to the Pan-African scene in Harlem was, however, the untimely death of Bayen at the age of forty. After struggling gingerly for another year, the *Voice of Ethiopia* folded in September 1941. Leadership rivalry and factional splits ensued. A decade later, what was left of the once vibrant EWF was a shadow of its former self, an esoteric Rastafarian movement dominated by working-class West Indian immigrants.⁴³

The postwar years

By September 1944, the recent retiree from Atlanta University had reconnected with his old associates in New York City. His NAACP position as Director of Special Research suited his temperament, enabling him to entertain disparate ideas as well as travel widely. It was in this capacity that Du Bois, with colleagues Walter White and Mary McLeod Bethune, attended the United Nations' founding conference in San Francisco in May 1945.⁴⁴

True to form, the occasion represented a grand convergence of thousands of journalists, interest groups, and government delegates from all over the world. Vijaya Lakshmi Pandit, Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru's charismatic sister, offered her suite at the Fairmont Hotel as a gathering point for African and Asian diplomats.⁴⁵ The Ethiopian team of seven, which Du Bois complimented as "a delegation of insight and intelligence," comprised the prime minister, the vice minister of foreign affairs, the vice minister of justice, the minister of finance, the ambassador to the United States and his secretary. Emanuel Abraham, Director General of the Ministry of Education and the youngest in the lot, served as Du Bois's main interlocutor, their discussion providing background material for an essay in the *Chicago Defender*.⁴⁶

Efforts to involve African Americans in the Ethiopian postwar construction had yielded negligible results, Du Bois lamented in his June "Winds of Time" column. American blacks,

while possessing applicable knowledge and transferable skills, lacked a pioneering internationalist zeal. The remedy lay from within, Du Bois advised. African Americans needed to nurture a culture of idealism so as to engage in development works in Africa and the West Indies. In the Ethiopian context, this meant accepting “hard work, cold and hunger, absence of modern city facilities, ... but in the midst of a great people who someday with proper leadership are going to make a new name in the world equal to that of their forebears 3,000 years ago when they led the world.”⁴⁷

In his closing, Du Bois tried to disentangle the pervasive stereotype about Ethiopian snobbery. He did not think the label was fair, although he could understand how cultural differences could easily shape such misunderstandings. Ethiopians did not share the social egalitarianism of Americans. Like Europeans, theirs was a class-conscious society in which formality and politeness could easily be misinterpreted for disinterest or arrogance, especially when reinforced by shyness with the foreign tongues. “On the other hand, in my knowledge of covering a number of years, I have found nothing but courtesy, desire of understanding, and especially a willingness to cooperate with American Negroes,” Du Bois reflected on his own encounters. “Naturally, like the Liberians and Haitians, they do not regard American Negroes the last word in civilization of manners. And they resent receiving unrequested advice from the people who know nothing about their country and, often, care less.”⁴⁸

No doubt that the flattering essay helped smooth some ruffled feathers. In fact, the first formal communication between the Ethiopian foreign ministry and the NAACP took place in its aftermath. Ahead of the 1947 U.N. General Assembly, the Ethiopian delegation wrote to Du Bois’s secretary, Hugh Smythe, requesting for a copy of the NAACP’s human rights proposal: *Appeal to the World*. “This is, of course, of great importance to us,” explained the letter, a follow-up to an earlier correspondence and a phone conversation.⁴⁹ Although it set the tone for the ratification of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights the next year, NAACP’s *Appeal to the World* did not garner enough support for a resolution vote. Still, the transoceanic dialogue it initiated would have ripple effects. In 1954, Emperor Haile Selassie would tour the United States for the first time. Of the six New Yorkers whom he formally recognized during a dinner gala, three were African American public figures, among them the NAACP’s own Walter White.⁵⁰

Sylvia Pankhurst and Eritrea

Du Bois’s involvement with Ethiopia, which began in 1919, rose to a crescendo in the second half of the 1940s. For one thing, he enjoyed a two-way communication with the most influential Ethiopianist of his time, Estella Sylvia Pankhurst of Great Britain, as well as with the Ethiopian legation in Washington. For another, the conversations dealt with real and timely national concerns, such as the fate of post-Italian Eritrea and Ethiopia’s need for an outlet to the sea. From a modern world history perspective, the series of letters between Pankhurst and Du Bois represented a rare dialogue between white feminists and Pan-African nationalists. When examined from a critical race theory point of view, asymmetrical power relations in the form of white privilege dominated their correspondence. Ethiopia, in this context, not only served as a platform for the convergence of the century’s leading gender and racial ideologies, but it also demonstrated how unequal and problematic such intersections were.

Du Bois first learned about the radical politics of the Pankhursts in connection with the 1911 London Race Conference, which he himself was not able to attend. From Atlanta

University 31 years later, he wrote to Sylvia Pankhurst of the *New Times and Ethiopian News*, requesting for a copyright permission for some of her newspaper photographs.⁵¹ He did not hear from her until they met in person at the Pan-African conference of 1945, held in the Pankhursts' hometown of Manchester, England. The sixty three year-old feminist came across as unconventional. Her note to Du Bois suggesting a Friday after-hour meeting, either at her house or at the venue of his choice in London, was untypical for even a progressive woman of her time.⁵² But, then, as the *New Englander* was soon to find out, so was her single-minded devotion to the Ethiopian cause.⁵³

In her first transatlantic correspondence in April 1946, Sylvia Pankhurst requested that the NAACP officer use his influence to prejudice the State Department's position on Eritrea. Rumors were that Britain was about to annex the ex-Ethiopian territory in the name of the U.N. Trusteeship Commission, and Pankhurst was concerned that Secretary James Byrnes would lend the plan a *carte blanche*.⁵⁴ "I do not think you or most English liberals have any clear idea of the status and effort of American Negroes," Du Bois wrote back, rather impulsively. Even if black Americans occasionally managed to intervene on behalf of Liberia and Haiti, for the most part Washington saw them as "busybodies," he lamented.⁵⁵

As early as 1930, Du Bois had insisted that a search for a sea outlet become a top diplomatic priority of landlocked Ethiopia.⁵⁶ Once past the initial misunderstanding between him and Pankhurst, the latter's plea required no further goading. In his role as president of the fifth Pan-African Congress, a position more titular than real, Du Bois endorsed the petition to the U.N. General Assembly, calling, among other things, for the reunification of Eritrea with Ethiopia, as well as for the withdrawal of British forces from the Ogaden.⁵⁷ Later, writing in *New Africa*, organ of the Council on African Affairs, he defended Ethiopia's claim over Eritrea on sociocultural, economic, and historical grounds.⁵⁸ In still another op-ed, he cautioned Italian Americans not to fall prey to Rome's jingoistic foreign policy rhetoric. Eritrea possessed too few resources to justify its restoration to Italy as a colony on economic grounds, he argued. If Italy showed interest in the reannexation of the sparsely populated, "half malarial and half desert" landscape, it could only be because of two reasons, either to deprive the people of the interior a natural sea outlet, or to acquire a staging ground for a future war of expansion.⁵⁹

If the late 1940s represented a temporary convergence between the leading champions of white feminism and black anticolonialism, it was also a period of clashing Pan-African perspectives in tune with the polarized worldviews of the Cold War. Expectedly, the hegemonic narrative on the Horn of Africa was not without critics. St. Clair Drake, a young assistant professor at Roosevelt College in Chicago, did not challenge Ethiopian irredentism in the north but worried about its implications in the east. "I do not think that the American Negroes should suggest that Somaliland become a part of Ethiopia," his thoughtful letter to Du Bois read. Drake's conclusion, based on the research he undertook while in Britain, was that while 95 percent of Somalis rejected Italian trusteeship, less than 10 percent of them found joining Ethiopia an acceptable proposition. "I think that those of us who wish to see a greater Ethiopia should take a stand for an independent united Somalia embracing French, British, and Italian Somaliland," Drake reasoned. "We could then encourage such a unit to voluntarily accede to Ethiopia."⁶⁰

Drake's letter was a bellwether. All along, Du Bois's writings and speeches had defined the foreign-policy position of the NAACP. This changed after Du Bois retired from the organization in fall 1948, according to Carol Anderson's study of the NAACP's role in colonial liberation struggles.⁶¹ Walter White, Roy Wilkins, and Henry Lee Moon, Du Bois's successor, began to listen to grassroots voices that had sprouted in the ex-Italian colonies of

Libya, Eritrea, and Somalia, many of which were antithetical to the greater Ethiopia vision. For example, when Abdullahi Issa of the Nationalist Somali Youth League came to town to speak at the United Nations, White and Moon facilitated print and radio coverage of the man and his vision of Somali self-determination. Thus lay the NAACP's contribution to the 1949 General Assembly resolution in which former Italian Somaliland was declared a U.N. trusteeship, albeit under the tutelage of its ex-colonial master.⁶²

What finally marked Du Bois's disengagement from East African politics came, rather, from the least expected quarters. By way of acknowledging Du Bois's propaganda work on behalf of the Ethiopian government, in August 1948 Ras Imru invited the NAACP official to the Ethiopian legation in Washington. Expressing regrets that he had not been able to do this sooner, the ambassador hoped to use the opportunity to "acquaint" himself with the African American community, as well as to "exchange views of mutual interest in cultural, historical and other matters." The legation promised to cover expenses incurred during the trip, and Imru himself signed the letter.⁶³

Du Bois, who had just entered his eightieth year, half of that as a keen student of Ethiopian politics by his own calculation, welcomed the invitation. He too hoped to discuss how two significant black populations, thirteen million Americans and fifteen million Ethiopians, could support each other in their aspirations for mutual progress. The meeting fell far short of expectations, however. Du Bois not only found the ambassador's preoccupation with domestic social issues irrelevant, but he also found it rather too frivolous and misled. "American Negroes are not responsible for discrimination in this land; they are the victims of it," he admonished.⁶⁴

The follow-up letter listed several facts challenging any hint of African American passivism: resistance against slavery, becoming a factor in the national economy, and achieving the enviable literacy rate of 80 percent. Enclosed was a copy of the NAACP's human rights booklet, *Appeal to the World*, whose first chapter Du Bois suggested be translated into Amharic so that Ethiopians could appreciate the African American contribution toward universal freedom and equality. In his conclusion, Du Bois hoped for another round of conversation after Imru had read the booklet, proposing as their main agenda the further exploration of intergroup cooperation. "I would especially like to suggest the idea of a Pan-African Congress held in your country, with His Imperial Majesty as patron, to confer on present cooperation and future aims."⁶⁵

Du Bois and Imru would not cross paths again, although developments over the next several days were to draw them closer emotionally. In the evening of September 13, a few days after his meeting with Du Bois, Imru would become the target of a Jim Crow incident. At the Constitution Hall gathering, where President Truman was to make a speech, he left the venue abruptly as an usher tried to move him out of the special section reserved for diplomats.⁶⁶ Initially, Imru chose to stay tight-lipped about the mistreatment. But once the fiasco was leaked to the media through a Yugoslavian representative present at the scene, the Ethiopian legation spoke publicly, unequivocally denouncing the practice of racial segregation.⁶⁷ Appreciating the courageous stance taken by the ambassador, Du Bois sent a note expressing his "shame and chagrin" by what happened. "His Excellency thanks you very much for the sympathy you expressed on the treatment he had at Constitution Hall," Imru's secretary responded. It was as if Du Bois and Imru had finally stumbled on a common ground but were too self-conscious to give themselves a second chance.⁶⁸

It would be some twelve years before Du Bois communicated again with the Ethiopian government. His correspondence with Pankhurst came to a halt, as did his op-eds and speeches on the Horn of Africa. But the divorce from the Ethiopian cause should not be

explained solely in terms of an unrequited Pan-African sentiment. Although Du Bois, in his ninth decade, was in relatively good physical health, he had limited resources to cope with the emotional wear and tear brought about by circumstances outside his control. His wife of 55 years, Nina Gomer Du Bois, had died in 1950 at the age of eighty. His explicit embrace of socialism had left him estranged from the NAACP, whose politics of pragmatism supposedly compromised lofty human rights ideals and moral integrity. Most of all, Du Bois's life was left permanently scarred by the witch-hunt of McCarthyism. While producing no prosecutable charges, the extensive probe by the Justice Department had resulted in the confiscation of his passport, leaving him grounded for eight years.⁶⁹

Ideally, the twilight years would have been the time for reaping the rewards of a half-century toil on civil rights and anticolonial crusade. Naturally, that could not come from the paranoid administration of Dwight Eisenhower. But some form of official recognition for the many decades of propaganda work on behalf of Ethiopia was not an unrealistic expectation, especially in light of the upcoming historic visit to the United States by Emperor Haile Selassie. Breaking silence, in February 1954 Du Bois wrote to Pankhurst requesting that a special arrangement be made for some well-placed "Negro Americans" to meet with the African sovereign. Pankhurst warmed up to the proposal, but in a tone that her counterpart must have found condescending and characteristically liberal.⁷⁰

Ethiopians did not "welcome" the term "Negro" as applied to themselves or to their country, the ex-suffragette explicated. Her recommended adjectives for black people were Ethiopian, African, and Afro-American. "I think myself that Mr. Lawson is not wrong in referring to the Negroes of America as Afro-Americans, for I believe the term Negro can only apply to one part of Africa and the Africans in America have come from many parts." Pankhurst was not racist in the conventional sense of the word. But neither was she perturbed by old fashioned paternalism and the open flaunting of white privilege. "I promise you that I will put the matter to His Imperial Majesty," her letter concluded, "and I am sure he will do what he can to meet the desire of the Afro-Americans or Negroes, if you prefer to call them so."⁷¹

In April, as the itinerary of the state visit was being finalized, Pankhurst confirmed that the foresaid Lawson of the United African Nationalist Movement would host the dinner party for the royal entourage.⁷² A few years back, James R. Lawson and a small band of UANM activists had staged a picket outside the St. Charles Catholic Church of Harlem, accusing it of past complicities to fascist Italy's war crimes in Ethiopia. A judge sentenced the supposedly unruly protesters to thirty to sixty days in jail, an excessive punishment that was later suspended because of public uproar.⁷³ However, instead of James Lawson, a namesake who was presented an award certificate by the Emperor during the June 2 grand banquet at the Waldorf Astoria was Bishop Robert C. Lawson, founder of the Harlem-based Refuge Church of Christ. Other honorees included Walter White of the NAACP, Mayor Robert F. Wagner, and Congressman Adam Clayton Powell, Jr. Conspicuously absent from the list was none other than Du Bois, who in the first place planted the very idea of the special Pan-African gala.⁷⁴

In the end, magnanimity held the day. Du Bois would pen an honest tribute to Sylvia Pankhurst following news of her passing away in her retirement home in Addis Ababa in 1960. "My personal acquaintance with Sylvia Pankhurst was not great," he confessed, although that did not prevent him from acknowledging her contributions to the Ethiopian cause as well as to the struggle for the improvement of race relations in Britain itself.⁷⁵

Equally free of remonstrance was Du Bois's commissioned article for the *Guardian* in 1955, the last piece he wrote on the Horn of Africa. Haile Selassie had kept his domain

relatively free and united, and the postwar economy was beginning to grow, the essay lauded. There lay fundamental flaws, it also forewarned. Ethiopia's progress and stability depended primarily on the wisdom of one man, rendering uncertain the country's fate in the inevitable event of the sovereign's death. "But what will follow his rule? A capitalist private profit regime, an increasingly democratic socialism; or some form of communism?" It was vintage Du Bois. The monarch's ouster by a Marxist junta in 1974 would plunge the country in a downward spiral of political repression and genocidal civil war, a detriment from which Ethiopia would have yet to recover a half century later.⁷⁶

Conclusion

On August 26, 1963, at the age of ninety five, Du Bois died in his newly found home in Accra, Ghana. Exactly three months earlier, the world had witnessed an epic-making moment in African politics. In a memorandum to Kentiba Gebru and Malaku Bayen in 1930, and in a letter to Ras Imru in 1948, Du Bois had shared his hope for a Pan-African conference in Ethiopia. The idea he planted would bear fruits at a critical juncture in African history. At the wee hours of May 25, 1963, the all-Africa summit in Ethiopia concluded with the signing of the founding charter of the Organization of African Unity, OAU, a feat few had then thought was possible.⁷⁷ Shirley Graham Du Bois was there, witnessing in person the coming to fruition of her husband's life-long vision. Du Bois's second wife, who flew in with the Ghanaian government delegation, saw the outcome as a major milestone, describing it in superlatives as "probably the most important gathering so far in this century."⁷⁸

Between the founding of the OAU and the passing away of Du Bois, in the meantime, was an event that would have a lasting effect among Africanists. Manchester, the hometown of the Pankhursts, hosted in July 1963 the second Ethiopian studies conference, whose proceedings were published a year later in the *Journal of Semitic Studies*. The founding conference of Ethiopian studies was held in Rome four years earlier, led by Enrico Cerulli, a fascist war criminal whom the Haile Selassie government had declared persona non grata. Following the precedent set in Rome, most of the attendants in Manchester were Europeans, native Ethiopians numbering few and far between. Thus lay the Eurocentric roots of modern Ethiopian studies, which from the outset insulated itself from diaspora and continental themes.

Although the unveiling process of Ethiopian studies has begun in recent decades, among those bigger-than-life figures who have yet to be rehabilitated is W. E. B. Du Bois. In a 1948 letter to Ras Imru, Du Bois claimed to have followed Ethiopian history with "absorbed interest for the last forty years."⁷⁹ That was not an exaggeration. The doyenne Pan-Africanist had corresponded, lectured, and written about Ethiopia more than any of his North American contemporaries. An in-depth assessment of that corpus and its impact on transoceanic ties awaits. Meanwhile, a recognition of Du Bois as a catalyst of Ethiopian internationalism is in order. This is not to minimize the contribution of other African American contemporaries, at least one of whom has been Christened de facto godfather of Ethiopian studies in North America. Rather, this is to give due credit to Du Bois, whose public and private records confirm a prolifically vocal yet little acknowledged advocate of Ethiopian internationalism.

Du Bois's final project was the *Encyclopedia Africana*, which he revived afresh after he moved to Accra, Ghana, in 1961. Among his correspondents on the enterprise was the thirty four year-old Richard Pankhurst, son of the suffragette Sylvia Pankhurst.⁸⁰ As founder of the Institute of Ethiopian Studies and a prolific historian, Pankhurst would go on to become

a revered household name among Ethiopianists. Du Bois, more than any of his North American contemporaries, had maintained a close association with Ethiopia, both through scholarship and personal contacts. Yet he would remain a mostly enigmatic figure in Ethiopianists' discourse of Pan-Africanism, a position from which this chapter hopes to have rescued him.

Notes

- 1 The inspiration behind this essay is the recently digitized database of Du Bois's papers, courtesy of the library of the University of Massachusetts at Amherst. In the database are several hundred documents on Ethiopia, most of them letters of correspondence, and many of which are cited here for the first time. Hitherto unknown, the records constitute a treasure trove to graduate school research projects and PhD dissertations. Beyond that, they have the potential of adding a new layer to the study of Ethiopian history, laying the groundwork for what someday might grow into a cutting-edge transnational subfield in Ethiopian studies.
- 2 For the relative omission of Du Bois not just from Ethiopian studies but from African studies in general, see Jemima Pierre & Jesse Weaver Shipley, "African Diaspora History: W. E. B. Du Bois and Pan-Africanism in Ghana," in Toyin Falola, ed., *Ghana in Africa and the World: Essays in Honor of Adu Boahen* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2003), pp. 731–755.
- 3 David Levering Lewis, *W. E. B. Du Bois: Biography of a Race, 1868–1919* (New York: Henry Holt, 1993), pp. 248–251, 574–578. In his classic analysis of the 1919 Pan-African Congress, Clarence Contee places the number of conference participants at 57: sixteen from the United States, twelve from nine African territories, and the rest from the West Indies and Europe. See "Du Bois, the NAACP, and the Pan-African Congress of 1919," *Journal of Negro History* 57, 1 (1972): 13–28.
- 4 "His Majesty, the Late Menelik II," *Crisis* 7, 4 (February 1914): 182–183.
- 5 W. E. B. Du Bois, *The Negro* (Oxford and New York: Oxford University Press, 1970), pp. 25–26.
- 6 Du Bois to Kentiba Gebru and Malaku E. Bayen, August 14, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 7 "Abyssinian Mission Here on Mauretania to Congratulate America on Victory," *New York Times*, July 6, 1919; "Greet Abyssinian Mission: State Department Officials Receive Delegation Sent to the President," *New York Times*, July 8, 1919; "Wilson Receives Abyssinian Mission," *New York Times*, July 15, 1919. For Du Bois's editorials, see *Crisis* 18, 5 (September 1919): 258–259; also 18, 6 (October 1919): 304.
- 8 Du Bois to Kentiba Gebru, May 26, 1921, Du Bois Papers.
- 9 Du Bois to P. A. Hamilton, November 18, 1924, Du Bois Papers.
- 10 Alain Locke to Du Bois, July 23, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 11 James McCann, "Ethiopia, Britain, and Negotiations for the Lake Tana Dam, 1922–1935," *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 14, 4 (1981): 667–699.
- 12 Du Bois to William B. Gould, August 5, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 13 Memorandum to Kentiba Gebru and Malaku E. Bayen, August 14, 1930, Du Bois Papers. Receipt of the memorandum was acknowledged by Bayen on August 26, along with a note expressing his personal gratitude. See Malaku E. Bayen to Du Bois, August 26, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 14 Memorandum to Gebru and Bayen.
- 15 Ibid.
- 16 Ibid.
- 17 Ibid.
- 18 Du Bois to Charles C. Huitt, August 15, 1930, Du Bois Papers. Charles C. Huitt to Du Bois, August 20, 1930, Du Bois Papers. Du Bois to Malaku E. Bayen, August 21, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 19 Charles Schaefer, "Politics of Banking: The Bank of Abyssinia, 1905–1931," *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 25, 2 (1992): 361–389.
- 20 Bairu Tafla, *Ethiopia and Germany: Cultural, Political, and Economic Relations, 1871–1936* (Weisbaden, Germany: Franzsteiner Verlag, 1981), pp. 154–155, 140–142. Also see J. Calvitt Clarke, *Alliance of the Colored Peoples: Ethiopia and Japan before World War II* (Oxford: James Currey, 2011).
- 21 Du Bois to Emperor Haile Selassie, September 9, 1931, Du Bois Papers.
- 22 Bayen to Du Bois, September 11, 1931, Du Bois Papers.

- 23 Willis N. Huggins and John G. Jackson, *Introduction to African Civilizations, with Main Currents in Ethiopian History* (New York: Negro Universities Press, 1969). Also see Willis N. Huggins to Du Bois, October 15, 1935, Du Bois Papers.
- 24 On the Ethiopian Research Council, see Joseph Harris, *African-American Reactions to War in Ethiopia, 1936–1941* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University, 1994), pp. 20–28. On Hansberry as a pioneer in Ethiopian studies, see Donald Crummey, “Ethiopian Historiography in the Latter Half of the Twentieth Century: A North American Perspective,” *Journal of Ethiopian Studies* 34, 1 (2001): 7–8. On the encyclopedia project, see William Leo Hansberry to Du Bois, May 2, 1936, Du Bois Papers.
- 25 Kwame Anthony Appiah and Henry Louis Gates, Jr., “W. E. B. DuBois and the Making of the *Encyclopedia Africana*, 1909–1963.” www.blackpast.org/perspectives/w-e-b-dubois-and-making-encyclopedia-africana-1909-1963. Visited on June 1, 2017.
- 26 NAACP to Du Bois, July 10, 1935, Du Bois Papers. Du Bois to NAACP, July 15, 1935, Du Bois Papers.
- 27 “7000 Here Protest Ethiopian Invasion,” *New York Times*, September 26, 1935.
- 28 Open Forum Speakers Bureau, January 13, 1936, Du Bois Papers; Educational Committee of Michigan Avenue Branch YMCA, Buffalo, NY, Presents Dr. Du Bois, February 7, 1936, Du Bois Papers; “Peoria Gets Ethiopian Facts: Dr. Du Bois Thrills Large Audience at Universalist,” *Atlanta Daily World*, February 20, 1936; “Du Bois in Speech before Capital NAACP,” *Chicago Defender*, February 22, 1936.
- 29 W. E. B. Du Bois, “Interracial Implications of the Ethiopian Crisis: A Negro View,” *Foreign Affairs* 14, 1 (October 1935): 82–92.
- 30 *Ibid.*, 84.
- 31 *Ibid.*, 86.
- 32 W. E. B. Du Bois, “Liberia, the League and the United States,” *Foreign Affairs* 11, 4 (July 1933): 682–695.
- 33 Du Bois, “Interracial Implications,” 85–86.
- 34 *Ibid.*, 88–92.
- 35 A classic study of Japanese genocidal atrocities in China is Iris Chang’s *Rape of Nanking: The Forgotten Holocaust of World War II* (New York: Basic Books, 1997). For the Italian equivalent in Ethiopia, see Ian Campbell’s *Addis Ababa Massacre: Italy’s National Shame* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017).
- 36 Ali Mazrui and C. Wondeji, *General History of Africa, Volume VIII: Africa since 1935* (Paris: UNESCO, 1993). For the 1935 Ethiopian war as a turning point in African nationalism, see S.K.B. Asante’s *Pan-African Protest: West Africa and the Italo-Ethiopian Crisis, 1934–1941* (London: Longman, 1977). On black nationalism in general, including escalation of anticolonial sentiments in the West Indies, see Fikru Gebrekidan, *Bond without Blood: A History of Ethiopian and New World Black Relations, 1896–1991* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2005), chapter 3.
- 37 Lewis, *American Century*, pp. 394–422.
- 38 Dr. Willis Nathaniel Huggins, schoolteacher, was the first African American member of the New York Board of Education. Representing various interracial groups under the auspices of Friends for Ethiopia, in August 1935 Huggins traveled to Paris, London, and Geneva to press for a diplomatic solution on the African crisis. When critics confronted the Alabama-born educator with claims of financial misappropriation, the latter retaliated by accusing the Haile Selassie government of domestic color prejudice and mass slavery. “Ethiop Fund Raisers Attack Huggins, Ask New York Board of Education to Silence Him by Taking His Job,” *Chicago Defender*, February 13, 1937. Also see William R. Scott’s *Sons of Sheba’s Race: African-Americans and the Italo-Ethiopian War, 1935–1941* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1993), pp. 113–116.
- 39 *Voice of Ethiopia* to Du Bois, July 10, 1939, Du Bois Papers. *Voice of Ethiopia* to Du Bois, January 18, 1940, Du Bois Papers. Du Bois to *Voice of Ethiopia*, February 1, 1940, Du Bois Papers.
- 40 Du Bois, “As the Crow Flies,” *New York Amsterdam News*, June 1, 1940.
- 41 Three weeks earlier, the *Chicago Defender* had erroneously reported Garvey’s death, setting off a series of premature newspaper obituaries. See “Marcus Garvey Passes Away in London,” *Voice of Ethiopia*, May 18, 1940.
- 42 “Negro Educator is Found Drowned,” *New York Times*, July 19, 1941.
- 43 “Ethiopian World Federation Has One Leader Too Many,” *Philadelphia Tribune*, August 22, 1942.
- 44 Lewis, *American Century*, pp. 494–498, 502–510.
- 45 *Ibid.*, 508.

- 46 Du Bois, "Winds of Time," *Chicago Defender*, June 30, 1945. Du Bois to Ethiopian U.N. Delegation at San Francisco, May 17, 1945, Du Bois Papers. Also see Emmanuel Abraham, *Reminiscences of My Life* (Oslo: Lunde Forlag, 1995), p. 62, 65.
- 47 Du Bois, "Winds of Time."
- 48 Ibid.
- 49 Letter from Ethiopian United Nations Delegation to Hugh H. Smythe, October 1947, Du Bois Papers. Emmanuel Abraham, one of the Ethiopian delegates at the General Assembly, mentions in his autobiography of serving on a committee. Although no detail is given of the committee's task, there is a possibility that it was established to assess the merit of the NAACP proposal. Abraham, *Reminiscences* p. 66.
- 50 "Six Decorated by Selassie," *Philadelphia Tribune*, June 5, 1954.
- 51 Du Bois to *New Times and Ethiopia News*, January 16, 1942, Du Bois Papers.
- 52 Sylvia Pankhurst to Du Bois, November 14, 1945, Du Bois Papers.
- 53 While the life of Sylvia Pankhurst's has attracted several biographical works, the only one focusing on Ethiopia is the volume by her son Richard Pankhurst, the most prolific Ethiopianist. See *Sylvia Pankhurst: Counsel for Ethiopia: a Biographical Essay on Ethiopian, Anti-fascist and Anti-colonialist History, 1934–1960* (Hollywood: Tsehai Publishers, 2003).
- 54 Pankhurst to Du Bois, March 27, 1946, Du Bois Papers.
- 55 Du Bois to Pankhurst, July 31, 1946, Du Bois Papers.
- 56 Memorandum to Gebru and Bayen, August 14, 1930, Du Bois Papers.
- 57 Petition from Pan-African Congress to United Nations, ca. September 1946, Du Bois Papers.
- 58 *New Africa* 8, 3 (March 1949), Du Bois Papers.
- 59 Du Bois to *New York Herald Tribune*, September 13, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 60 St. Clair Drake to Du Bois, December 2, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 61 Carol Anderson, *Bourgeois Radicals: The NAACP and the Struggle for Colonial Liberation, 1941–1960* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2015), pp. 164–166.
- 62 Ibid. 185–189, 197–203.
- 63 Imperial Ethiopian Legation to Du Bois, August 30, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 64 Du Bois to Imperial Ethiopian Legation, September 13, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 65 Ibid.
- 66 First reported in the September 16 issue of *New York Times* as "Color Line for Ethiopian Envoy at Science Session Brings Apology," the story was soon picked up by international papers. In India, in particular, whose diplomats in the United States had been subjected to similar ordeals of Jim Crow, the scandal became instant news. See Gerald Horne, *Paul Robeson: The Artist as Revolutionary* (London: Pluto Press, 2016), p. 134.
- 67 "More than Apology Needed," *New York Times*, September 17, 1948; "Acts on Ras Imru Insults," *New York Times*, September 17; "Ethiopians Reject Snob Apology," *New York Times*, September 21. The incident also attracted sympathetic op-eds. E. Alexander Powell, "Ethiopian Incident Protested," *New York Times*, September 18; and W. C. McGinnis, "Racial Segregation in Capital," *New York Times*, September 24.
- 68 Du Bois to Legation, September 24, 1948, Du Bois Papers. Legation to Du Bois, October 1, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 69 Lewis, *American Century*, pp. 545–546, 554–558.
- 70 Du Bois to Pankhurst, February 16, 1954, Du Bois Papers.
- 71 Pankhurst to Du Bois, February 27, 1954, Du Bois Papers. For the reply by Du Bois in which he sharply disagreed with Pankhurst's premise, see Du Bois to Pankhurst, March 31, 1954, Du Bois Papers.
- 72 Pankhurst to Du Bois, April 5, 1954, Du Bois Papers.
- 73 "Court to Hear Lawson Appeal," *New York Amsterdam News*, March 10, 1951.
- 74 "Selassie Critical of Regional Pacts, Says U.N. Offers Best Hope of Peace," *New York Times*, June 3, 1954. "Six Decorated by Selassie," *Philadelphia Tribune*, June 5, 1954.
- 75 "Words of Appreciation," *Ethiopia Observer* 5, 1 (1960): 52.
- 76 W. E. B. Du Bois, *World and Africa: An Inquiry into the Part which Africa Has Played in World History* (New York: International Publishers, 1965), pp. 269–270.
- 77 Jay Walz, "Thirty Africa States Form Loose Unions with Broad Aims," *New York Times*, May 26, 1963. Also by Jay Walz, "Africa's Unity Charter: Haile Selassie Hero of the Conference but Realization of Goal May Be Far off," *New York Times*, May 27, 1963.

- 78 Quoted in Gerald Hone, *Race Woman: The Lives of Shirley Graham Du Bois* (New York: New York University Press, 2000), p. 174.
- 79 Du Bois to Imperial Ethiopian Legation, September 13, 1948, Du Bois Papers.
- 80 Richard Pankhurst to Du Bois, June 13, 1961, Du Bois Papers. Du Bois to Haile Selassie, June 6, 1962, Du Bois Papers. Richard Pankhurst to Du Bois, November 26, 1962, Du Bois Papers.

Kwame Nkrumah and Pan-Africanism in West Africa

Matteo Grilli

West Africa has been the birthplace of some of the most advanced forms of African nationalism and Pan-Africanism. The development of the latter, in particular, became prominent in the region due to the crucial role played by indigenous thinkers as well as to its strong connections with the Atlantic world. West Africa became the fertile ground for the advancements of struggles for rights, freedom and ultimately unity of African people and people of African descent. George Shepperson defined West Africa as the “distributing point for all-African ideologies.”¹ J. Ayodele Langley further stressed this point. He argued that “within the triangle of transatlantic influences, West Africa was at once the recipient, critic and disseminator of Pan-Negro ideas.”²

Since the roots of Pan-Africanism can be identified in the abolitionist movements, West Africa emerges as one of the most important regions in the continent, an area where these ideas and battles were conceived and from where they were spread. It is also in West Africa that, during the nineteenth century, some of the first and most active Pan-African or Pan-Negro thinkers made their appearance. Edward W. Blyden, James Africanus Beale Horton, Majola Agbebi, Orishatukeh Faduma are just a few of the intellectuals which brought about the establishment of Pan-African and Pan-West African thinking.

In the twentieth century, other intellectuals and activists followed in the footsteps of these figures and campaigned for the unity and liberation of the West African region and ultimately the entire continent. While in French-speaking West Africa intellectuals conceived forms of cultural Pan-Africanism, which later evolved in the *Négritude* movement, English-speaking West Africa saw the emergence of a more political form of Pan-Africanism. This political Pan-Africanism became fully intertwined with radical African nationalism. Such a situation, according to Geiss, created an “inter-dependence of African nationalism and Pan-Africanism,” which characterized the actions and thoughts of all the major figures in English-speaking West Africa in the twentieth century.³ Joseph Ephraim Casely Hayford paved the way by initiating and coordinating the first political form of Pan-West African nationalism, embodied in the National Congress of British West Africa (1920–1930). Later, starting from the 1930s, a new generation of political leaders spread the Pan-Africanist and nationalist thinking in West Africa and beyond. ITA Wallace Johnson, Nnamdi Azikiwe and Kwame Nkrumah stand out as the most important protagonists of this period. Kwame

Nkrumah's radical Pan-Africanist agenda, in particular, represented the height of Pan-Africanism in West Africa, as he was the first West African leader and thinker to fully extend his Pan-Africanist thinking and policies to the whole continent.

This chapter will retrace the history of Pan-Africanist thinking in West Africa, illustrating how different ideas and conceptions eventually converged into Kwame Nkrumah's thinking. Starting from the first abolitionist movements that considered West Africa as one of the centers of early Pan-Africanism, this chapter will illustrate the thoughts and actions of the main thinkers and leaders that opened the way to Nkrumah. The chapter will then offer the perspective on Pan-Africanist thinking in the region following the demise of the Ghanaian Pan-Africanist, examining its evolution until today.

Abolitionism and the early Pan-African thinkers in West Africa

The West African region was fully involved in what Geiss has defined as "proto Pan-Africanism," a period during which Africans and people of African descent began organizing forms of resistance against their oppression and exploitation by people of European descent in Europe, Africa and the Americas. For centuries, African people and people of African descent had been suffering from slavery and the slave trade, when in the final decades of the eighteenth century a strong abolitionist movement made its appearance. Their challenge and struggle was aimed on the one hand to terminate the slave trade and slavery and on the other to eradicate the racial prejudice which had characterized the relationship between Europeans and Africans for a long period of time. Geiss identifies the date of birth of "proto Pan-Africanism" as 1787.⁴ It is in this year that American Quakers formed an important abolitionist society. It is also in this year that the first attempt was made to form an African American church, the Free African Society. From this early attempt, the African Methodist Episcopal Church (1816) and the African Methodist Episcopal Zion Church (1821) emerged, with both playing a fundamental role in missionary work in Africa, especially in the Western part of the continent.

From the beginning, West Africa was actively involved in the abolitionist movement. There were two reasons for this. First, in terms of sheer numbers, about half of the slaves captured and sold in the Americas were coming from this part of the continent.⁵ Secondly, some of the first and most powerful African voices in support of the abolitionist movement in the late eighteenth century were West Africans. In Geiss' crucial year of 1787, Ottobah Cugoano, an ex-slave native of nowadays Ghana, published one of the first and most influential writings against slavery.⁶ Two years later, Olaudah Equiano, an ex-slave from nowadays Nigeria and an acquaintance of Cugoano, also published an influential book against slavery in the form of his memoir.⁷

It is again in 1787 that the first attempts were made to found the "Province of Freedom," which would later evolve into the colony of Sierra Leone (1808). The Province of Freedom was created to colonize the area with "black poor[s]" [sic.] from the UK and eventually ex-slaves. Sierra Leone would play a fundamental role in the era of "proto Pan-Africanism." According to Geiss, Abolitionism on both sides of the Atlantic, the free Afro-Americans in the United States (and also in the British West Indies) and Sierra Leone between them directly or indirectly helped to produce those modern elites in the New World and in Africa who alone were able to articulate the concept of Pan-Africanism and translate it into political agitation and action in the twentieth century.⁸ In a matter of a few decades, "The so-called 'Sierra Leoneans' produced the first generation of African intellectuals and proto-nationalists in Nigeria" and other British colonial territories like the Gold Coast.⁹ The Fourah Bay

College and the grammar school of the Church Missionary Society (CMS) in Sierra Leone in particular trained some of the first exponents of “African proto-nationalism” and “Ethiopianism” such as Samuel Crowther and James Johnson, who both operated in Nigeria.¹⁰ The importance of Sierra Leoneans in Nigeria, called there “Saros,” can also be observed by the fact that Herbert Macaulay, a third-generation Sierra Leonean on his mother’s side, would become the forefather of Nigerian nationalism.

Hailing directly from the early abolitionist movements and the opportunities created by Sierra Leone, the first “back to Africa” movements made their appearance in the early nineteenth century and immediately targeted West Africa as the preferred “haven” for the return of people of African descent to their motherland. Back to Africa movements in particular flourished in the United States, thanks to men like Paul Cuffee, Daniel Coker, Lott Cary, John B. Russwurm, Martin R. Delany, Alexander Crummell and others. The “Back to Africa” idea also gained further recognition through the American Colonization Society (1817) which founded Liberia in 1822 for the return of free African Americans, the colonization of the region by African Americans and the development of commerce between the US and the African continent. From the early nineteenth century to the Second World War, according to Langley, three themes characterized Afro-American attitudes: African colonization schemes, missionary activity and racial Pan-Africanism.¹¹ As for the latter, early “Pan-Africanism was understood as ‘Pan-Negroism’, i.e. was defined primarily in racial terms.”¹²

Both Liberia and Sierra Leone became the centre of a flux of ex-slaves, missionaries and Pan-Africanist thinkers. Edward Wilmot Blyden (1832–1912), in particular, played a fundamental role in shaping early Pan-Africanist thinking, promoting the return of ex-slaves to Africa (especially to Liberia and Sierra Leone) and the establishment of a West African nation. Although not a West African by birth, Blyden lived much of his life between Liberia and Sierra Leone and he is widely considered one of the forefathers of Pan-Africanism and Pan-West African thinking. A prolific writer, Blyden can be easily considered “the most learned and articulate champion of Africa and the Negro race in his own time.”¹³ The main theme of his influential philosophy was that the black race had played a fundamental role in the history of humankind and that, according to a divine plan, it was still destined to play an important role, yet very different from the one of Europeans. In order to achieve this goal, the black race and particularly Africans had to work towards projecting a distinctive “personality.” This concept, first introduced by Blyden in 1893, became known as the “African Personality.”¹⁴ This would be at the heart of the thinking of several later pan-Africanists, in particular Kwame Nkrumah. While still controversially promoting the intervention of Europeans in Africa to help Africans establish modern nations, Blyden was adamant that Africans were the antithesis of Europeans. At its core, the African personality unveiled the different characters between the two races. As underlined by Lynch, The European character, according to Blyden, was harsh, individualistic, competitive and combative; European society was highly materialistic [...] In the character of the African, averred Blyden, was to be found ‘the softer aspects of human nature’: cheerfulness, sympathy, willingness to serve, were some of its marked attributes. The special contribution of the African to civilization would be a spiritual one.¹⁵

Blyden’s philosophy has been often considered controversial and even contradictory. For instance, his promotion of the African personality was often coped with a call for European powers (Britain in particular) to intervene in Africa to help to pacify, unite and develop it. Yet, he also stressed the importance of allowing Africans to cultivate their own traditions and institutions, therefore rejecting the form of colonialism which eventually won over the

whole continent. Also, quite controversially he bitterly criticized “non-pure negroes,” like the “mulattoes” who were ruling Liberia and Sierra Leone (the latter within the colonial society).

Yet, despite some questionable elements included in his writings, his influence on Pan-African thinking was huge and long-lasting. In particular, he envisioned one of the first nationalist and Pan-Africanist projects ever to be presented to African audiences. His was a call to cultivate the African Personality with the final aim of creating an African “nationality.” Pointing at the example offered by the then contemporary fights for independence by people in Europe like the Slavs, Germans and Italians, Blyden proposed the constitution of a form of ethno-nationalism. This, in his mind, was aimed at the creation of a large West African state hailing from Liberia and Sierra Leone and extending to the whole Western portion of the continent. Blyden also envisioned a West African university and an African church. In this latter effort he was supported by one of his disciples, Majola Agbebi, one of the most important West African Pan-Africanists of the late nineteenth century. In the same period, Orishatukeh Faduma (1855–1946) also pushed towards these goals, for instance with the promotion of African clothing and names in West Africa. By 1914 he would support a “back to Africa” movement organized by a West African, Chief Sam.¹⁶

While Blyden fundamentally failed in his project to create such a state, or at least an organization to support this goal, he did contribute to establishing the base of Pan-Africanist thinking in West Africa. In particular, English-speaking West Africans began to follow his ideas and doctrines. Blyden himself had contributed in spreading his ideas through a strong network of newspapers, the vehicle of much political activity in these areas between the end of the nineteenth century and the first half of the twentieth.¹⁷

As mentioned, Blyden’s ideas had a great influence in early Pan-Africanist and nationalist circles in Liberia, Sierra Leone and Nigeria. At the same time, Blyden also had an impact on another area of what would become, by 1874, part of the British colonial empire in West Africa: the Gold Coast. There, nationalist and Pan-Africanist thinking were developing at a fast pace. The southern part of what is known nowadays as Ghana saw the emergence, by the late 1860s, of a short-lived experience of self-governance in a territory by then already under the control of the British, namely the Fanti Confederation (1868–1871). James African Beale Horton (1835–1883) influenced and supported the constitution of the confederation. The Sierra-Leonean born Horton campaigned for the self-government of British African territories and he also strongly believed in the need for an “African nationality,” in this matching the preaching of his friend Blyden.¹⁸ Author of several book, his *West African Countries and People* (1868) remained for decades one of the most influential writing on African nationalism and Pan-West African thinking, together with Blyden’s *Christianity, Islam and the Negro Race* (1887).

By the end of the nineteenth century, a new influential figure, influenced by both Blyden and Horton, emerged. He was Joseph Ephraim Casely Hayford (1866–1930). His work and thinking would pave the way to a new generation of West African nationalists and Pan-Africanists in the twentieth century.

Pan-African and Pan-West African thinking in the early twentieth century

In 1897, the Aborigines’ Rights Protection Society (ARPS) was established in the Gold Coast as a new and ground-breaking political instrument. This was founded by J.W. de Graft-Johnson, J. W. Sey, J. P. Brown, John Mensah Sarbah and J. E. Casely Hayford to

serve as a political instrument to advance the demands of Gold Coast natives. The latter two founders are remembered as leading political thinkers of early twentieth century West Africa. As for Mensah Sarbah, his book *Fanti Customary Law* (1897) was praised by Blyden for its ideas on African nationality.¹⁹ Casely Hayford, one of Blyden's disciples, would become widely known thanks to his influential writings on Pan-Africanism and nationalism, being him like Blyden and Mensah Sarbah a sponsor of the "African nationality." His ideas and political projects, compared to Blyden's, were more concrete. They lead indeed to the creation of a political organization: the National Congress of British West Africa. This would be the first attempt to put Pan-Africanism into practice in West Africa.

A lawyer interested in politics, Casely Hayford published his first book *Gold Coast Native Institutions* in 1903, and wrote the introduction to Blyden's *West Africa before Europe* (1904). Just one year before Blyden's death, in 1911, he published his most famous book *Ethiopia Unbound*. This, according to Adi, was "one of the first African novels with a strong Pan-African theme," dedicated indeed to the "sons of Ethiopia the world wide over."²⁰ Casely Hayford was aware of the debates going on the United States amongst African American intellectuals and their influence in West African intellectual circles. Quite decisively he, being amongst the first to do so, criticized the most prominent African American intellectuals of that time and instead praised his tutor Blyden: "The works of men like Booker T. Washington and W. E. Burghart Du Bois is exclusive and provincial. The work of Edward Wilmot Blyden is universal. Covering the entire race and the entire race problem."²¹ Blyden's thought, Casely Hayford warned the reader, was the real answer for the Pan-Africanist movement. Africans and people of African descent had to search Blyden's writings for the solution to their problems. This can be considered further proof of the birth of a proper nationalist and Pan-Africanist thinking in West Africa, one that was no longer dependent on the "intellectual inputs" coming from the other side of the Atlantic. Casely Hayford was adamant that the political initiative for attaining self-government and unity in Africa should have been left to indigenous intellectuals. As noted by Langley, indeed: his strictures in *Ethiopia Unbound* were directed against the political messianism and crusading spirit of New World Pan-Negroists who had exalted notions about civilizing and leading a "benighted" Africa. Those groups were potentially subversive and did not fit in with the views and interests of constitutional nationalists and conservative Pan-Africanists of West Africa.²² Casely Hayford stated clearly that West Africans had to lead the Pan-Africanist movement for the whole African race in the world: "Here, then, is work for cultured West Africans to start a reform which will be world-wide in its effects among Ethiopians."²³

This does not mean that Casely Hayford and other West African Pan-Africanists of his time were indifferent to what was happening outside West Africa. For instance, contemporaries of the 1900 Pan-African Conference and particularly the "budding nationalists in West Africa" gave it a wide coverage and "were optimistic about its potentialities."²⁴ The Du Bois-Garvey disputes also interested West Africans at different levels. Casely Hayford, however, had stressed the need for concrete political action coming from the intellectual elites of West Africa as he wanted to draw the attention to the African continent as the source of the solutions to the problems of the Gold Coast and the other colonial territories. Similar points were raised in the same period by another Gold Coast philosopher, lawyer and nationalist, Kobina Sekyi (1892–1956).²⁵

Influenced by Horton and Blyden's ideas, but also by the South African Native National Congress (1912), the Wilsonian principle of self-determination and the Paris Pan-African Congress (1919), the National Congress of British West Africa (NCBWA) was founded in 1920 by Casely Hayford to present petitions to the British crown. The NCBWA, born as an

amalgamation of previously existing committees was aimed at coordinating the demands coming from all the West African territories under British rule. In the Gold Coast, “the concept of a West African nationality preceded the ideal of Gold Coast nationhood.”²⁶ This form of nationalism was shared also by Nigerians, Sierra Leoneans and Gambians. Indeed, “educated West Africans from the various British territories had more in common with one another than with the illiterate peasants of their own countries.”²⁷ Casely Hayford had already expressed it clearly in 1913 when referring to a united West Africa: “United we stand divided we fall.”²⁸ While still recognizing the authority of the Union Jack and being fundamentally a constitutional nationalist, through the NCBWA, Casely Hayford brought forward the idea of a “West African nationality,” a term that remained vague.²⁹ The NCBWA also campaigned for the establishment of a West African University.³⁰ The organization ceased its activities shortly after Casely Hayford’s death in 1930.

Despite the innovative ideas brought forward by the NCBWA, the organization did not prove successful in putting most of its political objectives into practice. Nevertheless, the long-term influence of this experience in West African political circles was remarkable.

In the metropolises of the main colonial powers of West Africa, France and Britain, a growing community of African students and workers organized cultural and political Pan-African organizations. In both contexts, West Africans had a leading role. The first African organization emerged in Britain in the late nineteenth century.³¹ It was, however, only in the 1920s, that proper Pan-African and Pan-West African organizations were formed in the metropole of the British Empire. The key-figure of this period was the Nigerian Ladipo Solanke, who first formed the Nigerian Progress Union (1924) together with Amy Ashwood Garvey and then – influenced by the NCBWA and especially by one of its members, Nigerian-born Herbert Bankole-Bright – he formed the West African Students’ Union (WASU) in 1925.³² Alongside the NCBWA, WASU soon became the most important incarnation of West African Nationalism and Pan-West African thinking. WASU saw West African Unity as the basis for the unity of the whole continent. As WASU’s president maintained, “if Africans are to survive, West Africa must become a nation, it must unite under the sentiment of national progress.”³³ Both Solanke and the Gold Coaster J.W. de Graft Johnson wrote influential books on West African unity.³⁴ In the 1930s, WASU became also well-known in West Africa, by opening branches and by supporting colonial reforms and local struggles, like the 1938 Gold Coast cocoa hold-up. In the mid-1930s, the already influential Trinidadian Pan-Africanist and ex-communist George Padmore moved to London and there co-founded the International African Friends of Abyssinia (IAFA), an association which included Pan-Africanists and West African nationalists (including members of the ARPS). In 1937, he established the International African Service Bureau (IASB). The experience of the Bureau connected with Du Bois’ tradition of Pan-African Congresses led, in June 1944, to the creation of the Pan-African Federation (PAF), headed by Padmore and aimed at organizing the 5th Pan-African Congress in Manchester in 1945.³⁵ West Africans played a major role in both the PAF and the Congress.³⁶

Similarly to Britain, proto Pan-Africanist organizations were formed in France in late nineteenth century.³⁷ It was, however, the experience of the First World War, when hundreds of thousands of African soldiers fought for France in Europe, that led to the development of the first political organizations to channel strong critiques to the Empire by Africans living in France. Also similarly to Britain, French speaking West Africans had a leading role in these organizations. The first of these was the *Ligue Universelle pour la Défense de la Race Noire* (LUDRN), established in 1924 by Dohomey-born Tovalou Houénou. The latter not only led the organization but also established contacts with Garvey’s Universal Negro

Improvement Association (UNIA), travelling in the US in 1924 and participating in UNIA's congress, introduced by Garvey himself.³⁸ Although approving Garvey's radicalism, Houénou also stressed the importance that each black organization should operate "according to their own methods, disciplines, and activities," claiming then autonomy for the LUDRN.³⁹ After Houénou's arrest in 1926, the *Ligue* ceased its activities. Senegalese Lamine Senghor, a member of the defunct LUDRN, led a new organization, the *Comité de la Défense de la Race Nègre* (CDRN) until his death in 1927. Interestingly, the CDRN used the term "Negro Personality," in its publication *La Race Nègre*.⁴⁰ Also, the proceedings of WASU were reported in the journal.⁴¹ After Senghor's death, Sudanese (Malian) Tiémoho Garan-Kouyaté formed and led its reincarnation, the *Ligue de la Défense de la Race Nègre* (LDRN). The radical Kouyaté linked the activities of the LDRN with those of Red International of Labour Unions and the French Communist Party and, together with George Padmore, edited the ITCW's journal *The Negro Worker*. Kouyaté wrote to Du Bois stressing his Pan-African objectives: "setting up in Black Africa a great Negro State. The Negro peoples of the Caribbean will retain the right to form their own confederation, or to rejoin black Africa, once this has been regained."⁴²

All these radical organizations were short-lived, and by the end of the 1930s the Négritude movement – holding a less political and more cultural character of Pan-Africanist thinking – was emerging. Even the Négritude movement was led by a West African, Leopold Senghor.

Meanwhile, in West Africa, two young nationalist, Isaac Theophilus Akunna Wallace-Johnson and Nnamdi Azikiwe, picked up the legacy of Pan-West African thinking in the early 1930s. Wallace-Johnson was a Sierra Leonean trade union activist and nationalist. He moved to the Gold Coast in 1933 and began his political activity by establishing the West African Youth League (WAYL). Through the WAYL, Wallace-Johnson pushed for reforms of the colonial administration in West Africa (especially in Sierra Leone and the Gold Coast) and protested against the Italian invasion of Ethiopia (1935–1936).⁴³ Nnamdi Azikiwe, also active between 1934 and 1936 in the Gold Coast by acting as editor of the newspaper *African Morning Post*, supported the WAYL and then later found the newspaper *West African Pilot* in Nigeria in 1937, proving explicitly his belief in the need for West African unity. Also in 1937, his articles on West African nationalism and Pan-Africanism were published in his first book, *Renascent Africa*.

Both men hugely influenced the early political thinking of the young Kwame Nkrumah, a man destined to play a crucial role in further growth of Pan-West African and Pan African thinking. Through Nkrumah, the ideas of the several Pan-Africanists from Blyden and Horton to Azikiwe and Casely Hayford could find a synthesis, capable of providing a message of unity for the whole continent.

Kwame Nkrumah

Born in 1909, Francis Nkrumah, later known as Kwame Nkrumah, was influenced in his early life in the Gold Coast by personalities such as James Aggrey and Samuel R. Wood. Also listed among the political influences of his youth are ITA Wallace-Johnson and Azikiwe. Once he moved to the US (1935), Nkrumah studied many philosophers and thinkers of nationalism and Pan-Africanism. According to Nkrumah himself, Marcus Garvey's *Philosophy and Opinions* "fired" his enthusiasm.⁴⁴ While a student at American universities, he became a leader of the African Students' Association of America and Canada and published a newspaper, *The African Interpreter*. Through these activities he aimed at reviving a "spirit of

nationalism” among West African students, particularly those from Gold Coast and Nigeria, and pushed forward the idea of West African Unity.⁴⁵ Shortly after moving to London in 1945, Nkrumah participated in the organization of the Manchester Pan-African Congress, a crucial landmark in the history of Pan-Africanism. At the time his vision – in line with that of Casely Hayford – was still limited to West Africa. At the Manchester Congress, indeed, he represented the West African region as a *rapporteur* of the session “Imperialism in North and West Africa.”⁴⁶

After the Congress, Nkrumah, together with Wallace-Johnson, Bankole Awonoor-Renner and Padmore, founded the West African National Secretariat (WANS), and became its first Secretary-General.⁴⁷ The WANS was aimed at uniting West African nationalist movements, inheriting the tradition of Casely Hayford’s NCBWA. Between 1945 and 1946 Nkrumah also became Vice President of WASU.⁴⁸ In September 1946, after Nkrumah had met the leaders of French Africa in Paris to support a “Union of West African Socialist Republics,” the WASU and WANS jointly organized a conference for West African unity.⁴⁹ Crucially, Padmore influenced Nkrumah in connecting the question of the Gold Coast’s independence and West African unity organically with the liberation and unification of the whole continent.⁵⁰ In 1947, Nkrumah published his first political pamphlet *Towards Colonial Freedom*, which represented the core of his Pan-Africanist and nationalist ideas expressed through Marxist analysis.⁵¹ Interestingly, alongside quotations of Giuseppe Mazzini and Wilhelm Liebknecht at the opening of the book was a call for West African unity by Casely Hayford. Between late 1940s and the beginning of the 1950s, Nkrumah included also the concept of the “African Personality” in his political discourse, drawing explicitly from Blyden’s Pan-Africanist thinking.⁵² This informed many of his future ideas and policies, including the need for Africa to be non-aligned.

At the end of 1947, Nkrumah moved back to the Gold Coast after being invited by the United Gold Coast Convention (UGCC), to become the party Secretary-General. The new challenge meant “a swift transit” to the territorial dimension of the liberation struggle, but in no way did it mean an abandonment of Nkrumah’s Pan-Africanist plans.⁵³ In fact, Nkrumah and his mentor and new political adviser Padmore considered the conquest of self-government and ultimately independence of single African territories as a necessary step towards African unity. Nkrumah’s victory at the 1951 elections under the banner of his new Convention People’s Party (1951) was for Padmore: “the first victory for the ideology of Pan-Africanism.”⁵⁴ Padmore amply celebrated Nkrumah’s successes in his *Gold Coast Revolution* (1953) and *Pan-Africanism or Communism?* (1956).

The quest for West African, and eventually continental, unity was not forgotten in the midst of the struggle for Ghanaian independence. This was included in the constitution of the CPP which referred to both the goals of a “West African Federation” and the establishment of “Pan-Africanism” in Africa.⁵⁵ By the time Nkrumah moved to the Gold Coast in 1947, according to his own account, “West African unity was still uppermost in my thoughts.”⁵⁶ On his way to his motherland, he strengthened his contacts in Sierra Leone and Liberia to form the basis for talks about a union of West African states after independence.⁵⁷ In September 1948, he also travelled to Ivory Coast and Guinea for the same reason.⁵⁸ Between 1948 and 1951, he met African leaders such as Wallace-Johnson and Azikiwe for organizing a conference on West African unity.⁵⁹ In 1953, finally, the now prime minister of the Gold Coast organized a conference of West African leaders in Kumasi, which, in his plans, would pave the way for a Pan-African Conference to be held in 1954.⁶⁰ While the Kumasi Conference proved to be a “very unrepresentative meeting,” it established the basis for a Pan-African conference, the All-African People’s Conference, which would be

organized not in 1954 but in 1958 instead.⁶¹ Both the experience of WANS and the 1953 Kumasi Conference were, according to Langley, “conscious attempts to revive and extend the ideals of the NCBWA.”⁶²

On 6 March 1957, at the independence celebrations of Ghana, Nkrumah made it clear in a famous speech, that the independence of Ghana was “meaningless unless it is linked up with the total liberation of the African continent.”⁶³ This, in concrete terms, meant that in his plans Ghana was destined to play a leading role in the continent, first by helping to liberate it and then leading it to its unification. In order to put this plan into practice, he and Padmore set up proper Pan-African institutions in order to support the liberation and unification of the continent: the Bureau of African Affairs, the African Affairs Centre and then, after Padmore’s death (1959), the Kwame Nkrumah Ideological Institute.⁶⁴ These operated in parallel with the Ministry of Foreign Affairs and the other institution of the state, creating a dichotomy between “unorthodox” and “orthodox” systems within the Ghanaian foreign policy machinery.

In 1958, two different Pan-African conferences were organized in Ghana. The first one was the Conference of Independent African States (CIAS) in April. The second one, the AAPC, was scheduled for December. African unity was discussed at the CIAS, but no concrete proposals were put on the table. The opportunity to transform the Pan-African plans into reality came a few months later. When Guinea obtained independence in October (1958), Nkrumah immediately offered to its new president, Sekou Touré, both financial help and the prospect of forming a Union with Ghana. The Ghana–Guinea Union was proclaimed on 23 November 1958. In the opening speech for the AAPC, in December 1958, Nkrumah praised the newly born Ghana–Guinea Union hoping that it would “constitute the nucleus of a United West Africa” and “evolve eventually into a Union of African States just as the original thirteen American colonies have now developed into the 49 States constituting the American community.”⁶⁵ The AAPC proved to be an incredibly important gathering that was comparable to the 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress. It was indeed imagined by Padmore and Nkrumah to be a new Pan-African Congress, only this time held in Africa with the overall majority of participants from the African continent. Almost all African liberation movements were represented, and Pan-Africanist plans were amply discussed. With the AAPC, Padmore and Nkrumah hoped that the Pan-Africanist torch would pass from the diaspora to the African nationalists. The conference greatly impacted African liberation movements.

Immediately after the AAPC, the first political refugees began to arrive.⁶⁶ Since 1959, Accra became a Pan-African hub for hundreds of African nationalists. Nkrumah offered them shelter but also political training. The objective was indeed to create a network of nationalist parties aligned to his Pan-Africanist vision. According to Nkrumah, indeed, only a continent-wide network of African nationalist parties which had embraced the basic principles of “Nkrumaism” could unite the continent and defend it from the threats of colonialism, neo-colonialism, and the rapacity of Cold War powers.⁶⁷ Nkrumaism can be defined as a Pan-Africanist ideology that included elements of black nationalism, socialism and Gandhism (at least until 1960). The expression of the African Personality – evolved from Blyden’s ideas – was its core concept, which also informed the non-aligned position of Ghana. Nkrumah’s plans for the unity of the continent were expressed clearly in his 1963 book *Africa Must Unite*.⁶⁸

Nkrumah’s Pan-African plans were more radical and bolder than those of his contemporaries, including Azikiwe’s, and this led to a strong political confrontation with other African leaders at the 1963 OAU founding conference. The new organisation was not even remotely

similar to the one envisaged in *Africa Must Unite*. Whereas Nkrumah had imagined the gathering to be the founding stone of a continental union government, the OAU appeared instead to be a loose association between African states interested primarily in the preservation of their sovereignty. For this reason, until the coup of February 1966, Nkrumah kept fighting to sponsor his Pan-Africanist vision in the continent and carve out a following of radical Pan-Africanist militants who would support his project for a United States of Africa.

After the coup, radical Pan-Africanist visions such as Nkrumah's began to fade away in West Africa as well as in the rest of the continent. According to Geiss, if the two conferences of 1958 can be considered the "height" of Pan-Africanism, since 1966 "Pan-Africanism as a political movement has been practically dead."⁶⁹ This, however, is only partially true.

Nkrumah's political afterlife and modern-day West African Pan-Africanism

Despite Nkrumah's downfall, Nkrumaism had a profound influence in Africa.⁷⁰ Nkrumaism influenced the organization and political thought of several liberation movements in Africa. Even independent countries adopted and adapted solutions taken from Nkrumah's Ghana. Between 1966 and 1972, from his office in Conakry where he went into exile after the coup, Nkrumah kept writing and coordinated the publishing of all his previous and new materials through a publishing company he himself established: Panaf. In his new works, Nkrumah explained in more details the dangers of neo-colonialism and the solutions Pan-Africanism could offer. In 1968, Nkrumah met Stokely Carmichael (later known as Kwame Ture in honor of Nkrumah and Sekou Touré) in Conakry. There, the two Pan-Africanist established the All-African People's Revolutionary Party (AARP), a Nkrumaist Pan-Africanist organization which is still active to this date.

Undoubtedly, however, the interest on Pan-Africanism in West Africa as well as in the rest of the continent was waning. At the time of Nkrumah's death (27 April 1972), the optimistic first season of the African post-independence period, associated with the modernization paradigm, was fading away and the season of "Afro-pessimism" was beginning.⁷¹ For many years, Nkrumah's figure, once hugely popular in Ghana and Africa partially lost its appeal. Despite few attempts to revitalize it, political Pan-Africanism also seemed to be weakening, or at least it remained crystallized for better days to come.⁷² Nyerere became the main proponent of Pan-Africanism after Nkrumah's death. The Sixth Pan-African Congress was organized in Tanzania in 1974 but it was not followed by another one in 20 years. The Seventh Pan-African Congress took place in 1994 in Uganda.

In Ghana, the memory of the Osagyefo was evoked briefly and contradictorily by the dictator Ignatius Kutu Acheampong (1972–1978). During the first period of his regime, some Nkrumaist policies were implemented. Also, Acheampong discussed with Nigerian president Yakubu Gowon the basis for an organization of West African states. During the first round of talks, the basis of what would become the Economic Community of West African States (ECOWAS) were discussed. According to K. B. Asante, a Ghanaian diplomat fully involved in the talks, the first draft for the organization was deeply rooted in Nkrumah's Pan-African thinking: "the idea of ECOWAS started with Nkrumah, with the Ghana-Guinea-Mali Union."⁷³ The final form of the organization, however, turned out to be much different than the initial radical plans of early 1975.⁷⁴

Nkrumah's ideas were once more supported by President Hilla Limann (1979–81) but then abandoned after his overthrow. In general, Nkrumah's policies and ideas were

considered in Ghana as outdated if not dangerous and in many ways he was “ridiculed,” at least until the mid-1980s.⁷⁵ Only after the early 1990s, the figure of Nkrumah began to be properly discussed in Ghanaian and non-Ghanaian circles.

With the exception of the attempts by the ECOWAS to integrate the region, there is still a dearth of a proper Pan-African movement in West Africa. In recent years, Pan-Africanism is often discussed in the region when considering the links with African Americans who visit Ghana and other West African countries to find their origins.⁷⁶ In the decades since his death, Nkrumah is still seen as the last great Pan-Africanist in West Africa and many people in the region still look back at his political thought for imagining new ways to put Pan-Africanism into practice.

Notes

- 1 George Shepperson, “Pan-Africanism and ‘Pan-Africanism’: Some Historical Notes,” *Phylon*, 23, 4, 1962, p. 351.
- 2 J. Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa 1900–1945* (Oxford: Oxford University Press 1973), p. 1.
- 3 Imanuel Geiss, “Pan-Africanism,” *Journal of Contemporary History*, 4, 1, 1969, p. 190.
- 4 Imanuel Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement*, (London: Methuen, 1974), p. 8.
- 5 Out of 12,5 million slaves embarked between 1500 and 1900, circa 6,3 million were coming from West Africa, www.slavevoyages.org/assessment/estimates accessed on 14/02/2019.
- 6 Ottobah Cugoano, *Thoughts and Sentiments on the Evil and Wicked Traffic of the Slavery and Commerce of the Human Species* (London, 1787).
- 7 Olaudah Equiano, *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano, Or Gustavus Vassa, The African* (London, 1789).
- 8 Geiss, “Pan-Africanism,” pp. 187–88.
- 9 Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement*, p. 9 and 52.
- 10 Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement*, p. 48–49.
- 11 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 18.
- 12 Geiss, *The Pan-African Movement*, pp. 4.
- 13 Hollis R. Lynch, Edward Wilmot Blyden: Pan-Negro Patriot, 1832–1912 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1967), p. vii.
- 14 Lynch, *Blyden*, p. 216.
- 15 Lynch, *Blyden*, pp. 61–62.
- 16 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, pp. 50–51.
- 17 Lynch, *Blyden*, p. 210.
- 18 See Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787* (London: Routledge, 2003), p. 84. See chapter 4 of James Africanus Horton, *West African Countries and Peoples: A Vindication of the African Race* (London, 1868).
- 19 Lynch, *Blyden*, pp. 237–238.
- 20 Adi and Sherwood, *Pan-African History*, p. 83.
- 21 Joseph E. Casely Hayford, *Ethiopia Unbound: Studies in Race Emancipation* (London: C.M. Phillips, 1911), p. 163.
- 22 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 33.
- 23 Casely Hayford, *Ethiopia Unbound*, p. 174.
- 24 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 29.
- 25 See Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 98–103.
- 26 Kimble, David. *A Political History of Ghana: 1850–1928* (Oxford: Oxford University Press 1963), p. 374.
- 27 *Ibid.*
- 28 Joseph E. Casely Hayford, *The Truth about the West African Land Question* (New York: Routledge, 1971), pp. 9 and 99.
- 29 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 118
- 30 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 128

- 31 Hakim Adi, "Pan-Africanism and West African Nationalism in Britain," *African Studies Review*, 43, 1, pp. 72–74. See also Hakim Adi, *West Africans in Britain 1900–1960: Nationalism, Pan-Africanism and Communism* (London: Lawrence & Wishart, 1998).
- 32 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: a History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), p. 49.
- 33 *West Africa*, 27 September 1926, p. 49, quoted in Adi, "Pan-Africanism," p. 76.
- 34 Ladipo Solanke, *United West Africa at the Bar of the Family of Nations* (1927) and Joseph William de Graft Johnson *Towards Nationhood in West Africa* (1928).
- 35 James, *Nkrumah*, p. 65.
- 36 Adi, "Pan-Africanism," p. 77.
- 37 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 89.
- 38 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 297.
- 39 *Les Continents*, no. 10, 1 October 1924 quoted in Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 298.
- 40 *La Race Nègre*, no. 1 (join 1927): "La Nécessité de nous organiser," quoted in Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 301.
- 41 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 306.
- 42 Copy of letter from Tiémoho Garan-Kouyaté, secretary-general of the L.D.R.N., to Dr. W. F. B. Du Bois, 29 April 1929, in Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 313.
- 43 See Leo Spitzer and LaRay Denzer, "I. T. A. Wallace-Johnson and the West African Youth League," *The International Journal of African Historical Studies*, 6, 3, 1973, pp. 413–452; and Samuel K.B. Asante, "The Italo-Ethiopian Conflict: A Case Study in British West African Response to Crisis Diplomacy in the 1930s," *The Journal of African History*, 15, 2, 1974, pp. 291–302.
- 44 Kwame Nkrumah, Ghana, (New York: International Publishers, 1957), p. 44. For the impact of Garveyism in West Africa see R. L. Okonkwo, "The Garvey Movement in British West Africa," *The Journal of African History*, 21, 1, 1980.
- 45 Nkrumah, *Ghana*, p. 43; Marika Sherwood, *Kwame Nkrumah: the Years Abroad, 1935–1947* (Accra: Freedom Publications, 1996), p. 98.
- 46 Hakim Adi, and Marika Sherwood, eds., *The 1945 Manchester Pan-African Congress Revisited* (London: New Beacon Book, 1995), pp. 80–84.
- 47 Hakim Adi, "Pan-Africanism and West African Nationalism in Britain," *African Studies Review*, 43, 1, 2000, pp. 69–82.
- 48 Adi, "Pan-Africanism," pp. 12–13.
- 49 Marika Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences, 1900–1953: What Did 'Pan-Africanism' Mean?," *The Joynurnal of Pan African Studies*, 4, 10, 2012, pp. 111–112.
- 50 Mensah, Joseph J. T. "The Bureau of African Affairs in the Kwame Nkrumah Administration from 1951–1966 with a (Descriptive) Guide to its Archives," (MPhil thesis, University of Ghana, 1990), p. 34.
- 51 K. Nkrumah, *Towards colonial freedom: Africa in the struggle against world imperialism* (London: Heinemann, 1962).
- 52 On Nkrumah's concept of African Personality see Matteo Grilli, *Nkrumaism and African Nationalism: Ghana's Pan-African Foreign Policy in the Age of Decolonization* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2018), p. 60.
- 53 Cooper, "Possibility and constraint: African independence in historical perspective," *The Journal of African history* 49, no. 2 (2008), p. 174.
- 54 George Padmore, *Pan-Africanism or Communism?* (London: Dennis Dobson, 1956), p. 178.
- 55 Constitution of the CPP in Nkrumah, *Ghana*, p. 291.
- 56 Nkrumah, *Ghana*, p. 95.
- 57 *Ibid.*, pp. 64–65.
- 58 *Ibid.*, p. 95.
- 59 Sherwood, "Pan-African Conferences," p. 115.
- 60 *Ibid.*, p. 116.
- 61 *Ibid.*, p. 118; James R. Hooker, *Black Revolutionary: George Padmore's Path from Communism to Pan-Africanism* (London: Pall Mall Press, 1967), pp. 118–119.
- 62 Langley, *Pan-Africanism*, p. 122.
- 63 Nkrumah, Midnight pronouncement of Independence at Polo Ground, Accra, 5 March 1957.
- 64 See Grilli, *Nkrumaism*.
- 65 All African People's Conference, *Speech by the Prime Minister of Ghana at the Opening and Closing Sessions on December 8th and 13th, 1958* (Accra: Community Centre, 1959).

- 66 Matteo Grilli "Nkrumah's Ghana and the Armed Struggle in Southern Africa (1961–1966)," *South African Historical Journal* 70, no. 1 (2018), p. 62.
- 67 See See Grilli, *Nkrumaism*.
- 68 Kwame Nkrumah, *Africa Must Unite* (London: Heinemann, 1963).
- 69 Geiss, "Pan-Africanism," p. 193.
- 70 See Conclusions of Grilli, *Nkrumaism*.
- 71 Paul Nugent, *Africa since Independence* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2004), p. 5.
- 72 See Ama Biney, "The Legacy of Kwame Nkrumah in Retrospect," *The Journal of Pan African Studies* 2, no. 3 (2008), pp. 145–147.
- 73 Interview with K.B. Asante, Accra, 7 November 2013.
- 74 *Ibid.*
- 75 David Rooney, *Kwame Nkrumah: The Political Kingdom in the Third World* (London: IB Tauris, 1988), p. 9.
- 76 See for instance, Obiagele Lake "Toward a Pan-African Identity: Diaspora African Repatriates in Ghana," *Anthropological Quarterly*, Vol. 68, No. 1 (Jan., 1995), pp. 21–36; Gaia Delpino, "Building Up Belonging: Diasporic 'Homecomers', the Ghanaian Government and Traditional Rulers: A Case of Return," *African Diaspora*, 4, 2, 2011.

Amilcar Cabral, Cabralism, and Pan-Africanism

The dialectic of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization

Reiland Rabaka

The important thing is to proceed to critical analysis of African cultures in the light of the liberation movement and the demands of progress – in the light of this new stage in the history of Africa. We may be aware of its value in the framework of universal civilization, but to compare its value with that of other cultures, not in order to decide its superiority or its inferiority, but to determine, within the general framework of the struggle for progress, what contribution African culture has made and must make and contributions it can or must receive. – Amilcar Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*

No one can truly wish for the spread of African culture if he [or she] does not give practical support to the creation of the conditions necessary to the existence of that culture; in other words, to the liberation of the whole continent. – Frantz Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*

Introduction to Cabralism: Amilcar Cabral's critical theory and revolutionary praxis

The Cape Verdean and Bissau-Guinean revolutionary, Amílcar Lopes da Costa Cabral, connects with and contributes to the Africana tradition of critical theory in several poignant, provocative, and extremely profound ways. First, it should be mentioned that “[a]lthough he did not start out or train as a philosopher,” Cabral, according to the Nigerian philosopher Olufemi Taiwo, “bequeathed to us a body of writings containing his reflections on such issues as the nature and course of social transformation, human nature, history, violence, oppression and liberation.”¹ Second, and as eloquently argued by the Eritrean philosopher Tsenay Serequeberhan, Cabral's ideas led to action (i.e., actual historical, cultural, social and political transformation and, ultimately, revolutionary decolonization, revolutionary re-Africanization, and national liberation). Consequently, in many ways Cabral “represents the zenith” of twentieth century Pan-African revolutionary theory and praxis.² Third, and

finally, Cabral's writings and reflections provide us with a series of unique contributions to radical politics and critical social theory, which – à la W.E.B. Du Bois, C.L.R. James, Claudia Jones, George Padmore, Aimé Césaire, Léopold Senghor, Louise Thompson Patterson, Frantz Fanon, Malcolm X, Stokely Carmichael, Angela Davis, Walter Rodney, the Black Panther Party, and the Combahee River Collective, among others – seeks to simultaneously critique the incessantly overlapping, interlocking, and intersecting nature of racism, sexism, capitalism, and colonialism in contemporary society.³ Consequently, this essay offers an overview of Cabral's critical theory, what I call "Cabralism," and his contributions to the evolution of the Pan-African idea and movement.⁴

Return to the source: tradition, insurgent innovation, and revolutionary decolonization

One of the major dialectical dimensions of Cabralism is Cabral's concept of "return to the source," and it hinges on his contention that one of the strengths of a revolutionary nationalist movement, such as the African Party for the Independence of Guinea and Cape Verde (in Portuguese: Partido Africano da Independência da Guiné e Cabo Verde/PAIGC), is that it preserves precolonial traditions and values but, at the same time, these traditions and values are drastically transformed through *the dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization*.⁵ In other words, precolonial traditions and values are altered by the protracted struggle against the superimposition of foreign imperialist cultures and values and the reconstitution and synthesis of progressive precolonial and recently created revolutionary anti-colonial African traditions and values. Therefore, according to Cabral: "The armed struggle for liberation, launched in response to aggression by the colonialist oppressor, turns out to be a painful but effective instrument for developing the cultural level both for the leadership strata of the liberation movement and for the various social categories who take part in the struggle."⁶ Anticipating that many may misunderstand him, as they historically have and currently continue to misunderstand and misinterpret Frantz Fanon's concepts of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary self-defensive violence, Cabral further explained his conception of the national liberation struggle as a "painful but effective instrument:"

As we know, the armed liberation struggle demands the mobilization and organization of a significant majority of the population, the political and moral unity of the various social categories, the efficient use of modern weapons and other means of warfare, the gradual elimination of the remnants of tribal mentality, and the rejection of social and religious rules and taboos contrary to the development of the struggle (i.e., gerontocracy, nepotism, social inferiority of women, rites and practices which are incompatible with the rational and national character of the struggle, etc.). The struggle brings about many other profound changes in the life of the populations. The armed liberation struggle implies, therefore, a veritable forced march along the road to cultural progress.⁷

Cabral's concept of "return to the source," therefore, is not only, as shall soon be shown, a "return to the upwards paths of [Africans'] own culture[s]," but also "a veritable forced march along the road to cultural progress." This "return," similar to that of Aimé Césaire, is a critical "return" that "is not and cannot in itself be an *act of struggle* against domination (colonialist and racist) and it no longer necessarily means a return to traditions."⁸ Rather, the "return to the source" that is at the core of Cabral's critical theory (i.e., Cabralism) is

a conscious anti-colonial and revolutionary step, however inchoate and anxiety-filled and, he asserted, the “only possible reply to the demand of concrete need, historically determined, and enforced by the inescapable contradiction between the colonized society and the colonial power, the mass of the people exploited and the foreign exploitive class, a contradiction in the light of which each social stratum or indigenous class must define its position.”⁹

In defining their position(s) in relation to, or, better yet, *against* the colonialist and imperialist powers, each member of the colonized society – individually and collectively – *chooses*, must as a matter of life or death, *will* themselves into becoming revolutionary praxis-oriented participants, active anti-colonial agents in the dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization, the protracted process of rescuing, reclaiming, and reconstructing her or his own sacred humanity, history, and heritage.¹⁰ In Cabral’s candid words:

When the “return to the source” goes beyond the individual and is expressed through “groups” or “movements,” the contradiction is transformed into struggle (secret or overt), and is a prelude to the pre-independence movement or of the struggle for liberation from foreign yoke. So, the “return to the source” is of no historical importance unless it brings not only real involvement in the struggle for independence, but also complete and absolute identification with the hopes of the mass of the people, who contest not only the foreign culture but also the foreign domination as a whole. Otherwise, the “return to the source” is nothing more than an attempt to find short-term benefits – knowingly or unknowingly a kind of political opportunism.¹¹

The “return to the source” can be said to translate into Africana critical theory of contemporary society as the much touted “cultural revolution” that many have often argued proceeds and must continue throughout the national liberation struggle.¹² Culture, when approached from a dialectical perspective, can be reactionary or revolutionary, traditional or transformative, decadent or dynamic, and the “return,” in light of this fact, must at the least be *critical* if it is to transcend and transgress futile attempts, as Tsenay Serequeberhan sternly stated, to “dig out a purely African past and return to a dead tradition.”¹³ The “return,” therefore, is only partially pointed at historical recovery, socio-political transformation, and revolutionary reorganization. There is another, often over-looked aspect of Cabral’s concept of “return to the source” that simultaneously and dialectically strongly stresses *revolutionary cultural restoration* and *revolutionary cultural transformation*.¹⁴

Indeed, Cabral argued, it is prudent for Africans to develop critical dialogues and “real” relationships with precolonial and traditional African histories and cultures, but he also cautioned them to keep in mind the ways in which colonialism and Eurocentrism, and the struggles *against* racial colonialism and *for* revolutionary re-Africanization, impacted and affected modern African histories and cultures, consequently creating whole new notions of “Africa” and African cultures and traditions. What is more, and what is not always readily apparent, is that the dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization calls into question the very definition of what it means – ontologically, existentially, and phenomenologically speaking – to be “African” – that is to say, “African” in a world dominated by European imperialism. To put it another way, Cabral’s dialectic of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization calls into question what it means to be “black” in a white supremacist colonial capitalist world. The dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization at its core, then, redefines “*Africanité*,” or “blackness,” if you will.¹⁵ It finds sustenance in Fanon’s faithful

words in *The Wretched of the Earth*, where he declared: “Decolonization is the veritable creation of new men,” of a “new humanity,” and the “‘thing’ which has been colonized becomes man,” by which he means *becomes human, becomes African*, by providing revolutionary answers to the question(s) of liberation and the question(s) of identity, “during the same process by which it frees itself.”¹⁶

There is a deep, critical self-reflexive dimension to Cabral’s concept of “return to the source,” one which, similar to Fanon’s theory of revolutionary decolonization, openly acknowledges that the colonized transforms, not simply the colonizers, but themselves through the dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization. Their theory and praxis, situated in a specific historical moment, emerges from the lived-experiences of their actually endured struggles, which in one way connects them to the past but, in another way, connects them to the *post-colonial* and *post-imperial* future.¹⁷ The “return to the source,” then, should not under any circumstances be a return to tradition in its stasis or freeze-framed form, but, as Fanon has firmly stated, African critical theorists – he uses terms such as the “native intellectual,” the “native writer,” and the “man of culture” – who wish to *think* and *act* in the best interest of the wretched of the earth “ought to use the past [read: indigenous traditions, narratives, histories, heritages, views and values] with the intention of opening the future, as an invitation to action and a basis for hope.”¹⁸

The “return,” simply said, is not to the past, but to the “source” – or, as I am wont to say, *sources* (plural). The source(s) of a people’s identity and dignity are, according to Cabral, contained in their history and culture: “A struggle, which while being the organized political expression of a *culture* is also and necessarily a proof not only of *identity* but also of *dignity*.”¹⁹ A people’s history and culture (and, following Fanon, we may add language) contain and convey their thought traditions, belief-systems, and value-systems.²⁰ These traditions and systems are – under “normal” circumstances – ever-evolving, always contradicting, countering and overturning, as well as building on and going beyond, the ideologies and theories, and the views and values of the past. Which is why, further, the “return” is not and should not be to the past or any “dead” traditions, but to those things (spiritual and material) from our past (e.g., ideologies, theories, views and values) which will enable us to create a present and future that is (or would be) consistently conducive to the highest, healthiest, and most humane modes of human existence and experience.²¹

The weapon of theory, the weapon of culture, dialectical decolonization, and revolutionary re-Africanization

Cabral’s concept of “return to the source” is doubly-distinguished in its contributions to the African tradition of critical theory in that it enables us to critique two dominant tendencies in African liberation theory and praxis. The first tendency is that of the vulgar and narrow-minded nationalists who seek, or so it seems, to expunge every aspect of European culture, collapsing it almost completely into European colonization, without coming to the critical realization that: “A people who free themselves from foreign domination will not be culturally free unless, without underestimating the importance of positive contributions from the oppressor’s culture and other cultures, they return to the upwards paths of their own culture.”²² To “return” to the “upwards paths of [Africans’] own culture” means side-stepping the narrow-minded nationalists’ knee-jerk reaction to everything European or non-African, and it also means making a critical and, even more, a dialectical distinction between white supremacy, anti-black racism, and Eurocentrism, on the one hand, and Europe and

other cultures' authentic contributions to human culture and civilization that have, or could potentially, benefit the whole of humanity, on the other hand.²³

The second tendency that Cabral's concept of "return to the source" strongly condemns are those, usually Europeanized, petite bourgeois, alienated African's living in colonial metropolises, who seem to uncritically praise Africa's precolonial histories and cultures without coming to terms with the fact that:

Without any doubt, underestimation of the cultural values of African peoples, based upon racist feelings and the intention of perpetuating exploitation by the foreigner, has done much harm to Africa. But in the face of the vital need for progress, the following factors or behavior would be no less harmful to her: unselective praise; systematic exaltation of virtues without condemning defects; blind acceptance of the values of the culture without considering what is actually or potentially negative, reactionary or regressive; confusion between what is the expression of an objective and historical material reality and what appears to be a spiritual creation of the result of a special nature; absurd connection of artistic creations, whether valid or not, to supposed racial characteristics; and, finally, non-scientific or ascientific critical appreciation of the cultural phenomenon.²⁴

Cabral advocated a "critical analysis of African cultures," and in doing so he developed a distinct dialectical approach to Africa's wide-ranging histories, cultures, and struggles. This is extremely important to emphasize because too often Africa historically has been, and currently continues to be, engaged as though its histories, cultures, and peoples are either completely homogeneous or completely heterogeneous; as if it were impossible for the diverse and dynamic cultures of Africa to simultaneously possess commonalities *and* distinct differences. Cabral's critical theory of culture, also, includes a unique comparative dimension that recommends placing what Africans consider to be the "best" of their culture into critical dialogue with the contributions and advances of other, non-African cultures. This, he argued, was important in order to get a real sense of what Africa has contributed to world culture and civilization, and to discover what world culture and civilization has historically contributed to, and currently offers Africa.²⁵ In his own words:

The important thing is not to waste time in more or less hair-splitting debates on the specificity or non-specificity of African cultural values, but to look upon these values as a conquest by a part of mankind for the common heritage of all mankind, achieved in one or several phases of its evolution. The important thing is to proceed to critical analysis of African cultures in the light of the liberation movement and the demands of progress – in the light of this new stage in the history of Africa. We may be aware of its value in the framework of universal civilization, but to compare its value with that of other cultures, not in order to decide its superiority or its inferiority, but to determine, within the general framework of the struggle for progress, what contribution African culture has made and must make and contributions it can or must receive.²⁶

For Cabral, it is important to understand both the particularities and universalities of African culture within the specific context in which the war for national liberation is being waged. Therefore, an Africana critical theorist must not simply be conversant with, for example, Marxism, Leninism, Maoism, Gramscism, Fanonism, Guevarism and the Frankfurt School, among many others, but also, and more importantly according to Cabral, the cultural

groups, political parties, social organizations, and religious affiliations in the milieu one is seeking to radically transform. This is to say, even as he stressed “not wast[ing] time in more or less hair-splitting debates on the specificity or non-specificity of African cultural values,” Cabral was keen not to diminish the importance of understanding the cultural conventions, “tribal mentality,” and “social and religious rules and taboos contrary to the development of the struggle.”²⁷ As Maryinez Hubbard argued, Cabral, distinguished from many other African revolutionaries, was “an astute observer of the ethnic situation of his own country. He was aware of the potential strengths and problems” of the people of Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau.²⁸ As a consequence, “[h]e did not delude himself that they were a homogeneous mass who would respond to the liberation struggle in similar ways.”²⁹

In Cabral’s critical theory of national liberation, an analysis of the cultural conflicts, “tribal mentality,” and “social and religious rules and taboos contrary to the development of the struggle” is a necessity because for the movement to succeed its leaders must base their actions on “thorough knowledge of the culture of the people and be able to appreciate at their true value the elements of this culture, as well as different levels that it reaches in each group.”³⁰ Putting the dialectical dimension of his critical theory on full display, Cabral went even further to emphasize that the leaders of the national liberation movement must also be able to “discern in the entire set of cultural values of the people: the essential and the secondary, the positive and the negative, the progressive and the reactionary, the strengths and the weaknesses.”³¹ With this in mind, we witness that at the conceptual core of Cabralism is an emphasis on *dialectical decolonization*, a kind of decolonization that, literally, “discern[s] the essential and the secondary,” the “positive and the negative,” the “progressive and the reactionary,” and the “strengths and the weaknesses” of the “cultural values of the people.”

Cabral maintained the belief that culture must be politically analyzed in the new nation that is being forged on the battlefields of the national liberation struggle, where the ghosts of “tribalism” are eventually exorcised and the sectarianism of the past gives way to the principled Pan-Africanism, democratic socialism, and revolutionary humanism of the nation’s foreseeable future. Once again, culture must serve the dire needs of the struggling people, renewing and freeing itself from colonialism, guarding against neocolonialism, and providing the foundation for a new humanity and new identity that is slowly but surely emanating from all those actively involved in the national liberation struggle. This new humanity and new identity is a consequence of the armed struggle and the spirit of comradeship it cultivated among the people-in-arms.³²

Recalling Fanon’s contention in *The Wretched of the Earth* that “[d]ecolonization is the veritable creation of new men,” of a “new humanity,” as observed here, Cabral declared that the “armed liberation struggle implies ... a veritable forced march along the road to cultural progress.” He also asserted that, when we take into account the fact that the national revolution, via the dialectic of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization, aids in the elimination of a great number of contradictions within the very varied social, political, cultural, and religious groups of the respective revolutionists, the national liberation struggle is “not only a product of culture but also a *determinant of culture*.”³³

In Cabral’s critical theory, it is not simply theory that can be utilized as a weapon, but also the new culture that grows out of the overarching processes and dialectics of *decolonization*, *re-Africanization*, and *national liberation*. In other words, Cabral’s critical theory is not only distinguished by its emphasis on *the weapon of theory*, but also *the weapon of culture*. Hence, at the core of Cabral’s concept of “return to the source” is his staunch belief that: (1) there must be “critical analysis [and critical reappraisal] of African cultures in the light of

the liberation movement and the demands of progress;" (2) the new culture that grows out of the collective processes and dialectics of *decolonization*, *re-Africanization*, and *national liberation* can be used as an effective weapon against colonial, neocolonial, and imperial forces; and (3) when and where culture is used as an effective weapon against colonial, neocolonial, and imperial forces, the people struggling for justice, freedom, and lasting liberation are then able to nurture the development of not only a *new national culture*, but also new *ethical culture*, *political culture*, *scientific culture*, and *popular culture* while simultaneously contributing to international human culture and civilization.³⁴

Cabral contended that both a new humanity and a new culture grows out of the national liberation movement, which, in one way, is a conceptual continuation of Fanon's thought in *The Wretched of the Earth*.³⁵ However, in another way, Cabral's critical theory – i.e., Cabralism – breaks new ground with its emphasis on disparate cultures converging through revolution to create a new humanity and a new national culture. In Cabral's critical theory, as I discussed in detail in *Concepts of Cabralism: Amílcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory*, colonialism and other forms of imperialism were the greatest obstacles to social transformation and authentic human liberation in Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau.³⁶ Hence, his work stresses that it is the solemn duty of each and every Cape Verdean and Bissau-Guinean to actively participate in the national revolution. However, part of what he meant by *active participation in revolution* entailed developing an openness to, and learning more about African cultures other than one's own. Which is to say, at its core Cabralism is, in fact, a form of *revolutionary Pan-Africanism*. Coupled with his emphasis on *cultural openness* is also an emphasis on *historical grounding*. For instance, in *Return to the Source*, Cabral declared: "Ten years ago [i.e., prior to the national liberation struggle], we were Fula, Mandjak, Mandinka, Balante, Pepel, and others. Now we are a nation of Guineans."³⁷

Cabralism, revolutionary Pan-Africanism, and revolutionary humanism: Cabral's critical theory of decolonization, liberation, and re-humanization

History and culture, as we see here, play a special part in Cabral's critical theory of national liberation, and he argued that careful and critical analysis of the specificities of African histories, cultures, and ethnicities is equally, if not more important, in national liberation struggles than broad-based theories touting everything from a distinct "black soul" and African personality to a collective African mind and African communalism.³⁸ Not only were many of these theories, from Cabral's point of view, historically, culturally, and sociologically inaccurate, but they were also extremely detrimental since they often glossed over important differences and precluded historical materialist and dialectical materialist interpretations of culture in the development of particular African societies – precolonial, colonial, or neocolonial. Moreover, from his African historical materialist perspective, the catch-all concepts and umbrella theories about Africa had a tendency to consistently downplay the many ways in which ethnicity, occupation, class, and religion often influenced participation, or non-participation, in revolutionary decolonization, revolutionary re-Africanization, and national liberation efforts.³⁹

However, Cabral also did not believe that endless hours should be spent searching for minute details in efforts to distinguish one African cultural or ethnic group from another. What was, and what remains, most important is that Africans' critically analyze and assess their own histories, cultures, and struggles, and – this should be strongly stressed – develop a deeper comparative dimension in terms of placing their cultures into critical dialogue, not

only with each other, but with other, non-African cultures, especially those involved in anti-racist, anti-colonialist, and anti-imperialist struggles.⁴⁰ Above it was demonstrated that a strong humanist strain runs through Cabralism, and here we may observe, again, his principled stand against imperialism and for revolutionary humanism. Even more, here we can see that in promoting a critical comparative dimension to the national liberation struggle, Cabral connected Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau's national culture with global culture, their national history with world history and, most significantly, their national struggle with international struggles.⁴¹

Cabral's conceptions of national history and national culture indelibly informed his notion of the national liberation struggle. For instance, one would be hard-pressed to provide an answer to Cabral's cryptic question: "Against whom are our people struggling?" – or, à la Cabral, Serequeberhan's more recent query: "[W]hat are the people of Africa trying to free themselves from, and what are they trying to establish?" – unless she or he possessed a critical cognizance of the roots or "sources" of the particular history and culture in question; ever-willing and able to critically inquire into *what* and *how* specific historical, cultural, social, and political predicaments and impediments have been, and are *being*, transversed and transpired.⁴² In my view, Fanon captured this conundrum best when he stated:

A national culture is not a folklore, nor an abstract populism that believes it can discover the people's true nature. It is not made up of inert dregs of gratuitous actions, that is to say actions which are less and less attached to the ever-present reality of the people. A national culture is the whole body of efforts made by a people in the sphere of thought to describe, justify, and praise the action through which that people has created itself and keeps itself in existence. A national culture in underdeveloped countries should therefore take its place at the very heart of the struggle for freedom which these countries are carrying on ... No one can truly wish for the spread of African culture if he [or she] does not give practical support to the creation of the conditions necessary to the existence of that culture; in other words, to the liberation of the whole continent.⁴³

Fanon's concept of national culture connects with Cabral's critical theory in so far as both of their thought suggests a reliance on (or "return" to) those elements which the subjugated population have employed, and may continue to employ, to "describe, justify, and praise the action[s] through which that people has created itself and keeps itself in existence." This means nothing less than the oppressed undergoing a process of a "transvaluation of values" from the existing imperialist social set-up and a "revolution in values" that totally contradicts and overturns imperialist values, which are obstructions to the veritable creation of new human beings who envision and seek to bring into being a new humanity and a new society.⁴⁴ Cabral's critical return, understood as a "cultural revolution," at its core calls for – to borrow Herbert Marcuse's phrase – a "transvaluation of values."⁴⁵

All of this is to say, Cabral's critical "return to the source," which unequivocally advocates cultural revolution, is a rejection of "traditional," "conventional," "established," or "accepted" imperialist values and, what is more, retrogressive precolonial or traditional African values. His "return to the source," in this sense, is more of a kind of *historical and cultural critical consciousness-raising, a form of radical political education, social (re)organization, and revolutionary praxis* that requests that or, rather, challenges the wretched of the earth to remain cognizant at all times of "our own situation" and "be aware of our things."⁴⁶ "We must respect those things of value," contended Cabral, "which are useful for the future of our land, [and] for the advancement of our people."⁴⁷

A “transvaluation of values,” first, requires that we “be aware of our things.” Meaning, we should possess an intimate knowledge of our past and present colonial and anti-colonial history, culture, and struggles. Second, it necessitates that we “respect those things of value, which are useful for the future of our land, [and] for the advancement of our people.” That is to say, “those things of value” which will enable us to create a new, *post-imperialist* society; a society without poverty and privilege; a society free from domination and exploitation; a society that utilizes science and technology as *instruments of liberation* as opposed to *tools of domination*; a society whose ultimate aim is the constant creation of those “new human beings” Fanon wrote so passionately about in *The Wretched of the Earth*.⁴⁸ Such a society, further, demands what Marcuse called a “transvaluation of values” and, even more, it presupposes a new type of human being who:

rejects the performance principles governing the established societies; a type of man who has rid himself of the aggressiveness and brutality that are inherent in the organization of established society, and in their hypocritical, puritan morality; a type of man who is biologically incapable of fighting wars and creating suffering; a type of man who has a good conscience of joy and pleasure and who works collectively and individually for a social and natural environment in which such an existence becomes possible.⁴⁹

The new human beings with new values possess a new worldview, which is the determinate negation of the presently established imperialist worldview and value-system, in Africa or elsewhere. The connection between one’s worldview and value-system should be stressed because it is precisely these things which, to a certain extent, determine a person’s thought and behavior. An individual’s worldview and value-system becomes their “second nature” and as such provide beliefs, norms, and aspirations which motivate them, either consciously or unconsciously, to think and act either *for* or *against* the imperialist world-system.⁵⁰

Conclusion: Cabral’s Pan-African pragmatism

Unlike many other revolutionary leaders Amílcar Cabral genuinely valued culture (i.e., *the weapon of culture*) as an asset in and integral part of the national liberation struggle, even though the heterogeneity of Cape Verdean and Bissau-Guinean culture in many instances limited the rapid development of the national revolution.⁵¹ Instead of viewing the wretched of the earth in Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau as a *tabula rasa*, he argued that their respective cultures actually provide important elements of the foundation on which the new, decolonized, re-Africanized, and revolutionized Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau must be built.⁵² “Whatever may be the ideological or idealistic characteristics of cultural expression,” Cabral declared, “culture is an essential element of the history of a people. Culture is, perhaps, the product of this history just as the flower is the product of a plant.”⁵³

Perhaps the most remarkable aspect of Cabral’s contributions to radical politics and critical social theory in general, and black radical politics and Africana critical theory in particular, is his high level of conceptual consistency and pragmatism from the mid-1950s through to the mid-1970s. As *Revolution in Guinea*, *Return to the Source*, *Unity and Struggle* and, more recently, *Resistance and Decolonization* deftly demonstrate, although the words he utilized to express certain theories and praxes differed from time to time, Cabral was in fact articulating the same fundamental philosophy and core principles whether addressing the Conference of African Peoples in Cairo, the United Nations, the Frantz Fanon Center in Milan, the Conference of Nationalist Organizations of the Portuguese Colonies in Dar es Salaam, the

Tricontinental Conference in Havana, Lincoln University in Pennsylvania, Syracuse University in New York, PAIGC leaders and comrades, or Cape Verdean and Bissau-Guinean peasants in the villages. He did not alter the core concerns of his radical politics and critical social theory to appease his audience – although, as an astute ambassador of the people of Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau, in most instances he avoided rubbing them the wrong way or talking over their heads.⁵⁴

Ultimately, then, what is made apparent from all of the foregoing is a portrait of a committed revolutionary: who was grounded in the history, culture, and struggles of the people of Cape Verde and Guinea-Bissau, but who also had a deep and abiding respect for the histories, cultures, and struggles of the wretched of the earth worldwide; who was disinclined to engage in verbose theoretical speculation and mealy-mouthed discursive excess; who privileged concrete philosophy and critical theory over racial, political, or religious ideology; who “valued independence of thought more than adherence to [widely] accepted political doctrine[s];” and whose larger legacy is the critical theory and revolutionary praxis he created to describe, alter, and inspire the Cape Verdean and Bissau-Guinean revolution, as well as the wretched of the earth around the globe. It is Amílcar Cabral’s inextricable critical theory and revolutionary praxis that I have come to call “Cabralism,” because his theoretical and political work, literally, transcends orthodox conceptions of both Marxism and African nationalism.⁵⁵

Cabral’s contributions to critical theory offer contemporary critical theorists alternatives, not only to imperialism, but to the Eurocentrism of much of what currently passes as “critical theory.”⁵⁶ And, further, his contributions do so without disavowing the crucial contributions that European and other non-African traditions of philosophy and critical theory provide for the Africana tradition of critical theory. When all is said and done, then, for Cabral the “return to the source” is not only about the dialectical process of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization, but also about revolutionary humanism and the promise of a liberated future where the “new humanity” that Fanon envisioned, and the “transvaluation of values” that Marcuse described, is a concrete, actually existing, ever-evolving reality. In other words, Cabral’s ideas and actions, which is to say *Cabralism*, provide us with a blueprint for a *post-imperialist world*.

Notes

- 1 Olufemi Taiwo, “Cabral,” in *A Companion to the Philosophers*, ed. Robert L. Arrington (Malden: Blackwell, 1999), 6.
- 2 Tsenay Serequeberhan, ed., *African Philosophy: The Essential Readings* (New York: Paragon House, 1991), 20. See also Tsenay Serequeberhan, “Amílcar Cabral and the Practice of Theory,” in *The Life, Thought, and Legacy of Cape Verde’s Freedom Fighter Amílcar Cabral (1924–1973): Essays on His Liberation Philosophy*, eds. John Fobanjong and Thomas Ranuga (Lewiston, NY: Mellen Press, 2006), 17–28.
- 3 For further discussion of Cabral’s life and legacy, see Mario de Andrade, *Amílcar Cabral: Essai de Biographie Politique* (Paris: François Maspero, 1980); Jean-Claude Andreini and Marie-Claude Lambert, *La Guinée-Bissau: D’Amílcar Cabral à la Reconstruction Nationale* (Paris: L’Harmattan, 1978); Aquino de Bragança, *Amílcar Cabral* (Lisbon: Iniciativas Editoriais, 1976); José Pedro Castanheira, *Qui a fait tuer Amílcar Cabral?* (Paris: L’Harmattan, 2003); Patrick Chabal, *Amílcar Cabral: Revolutionary Leadership and People’s War* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1983); Ronald H. Chilcote, *Amílcar Cabral’s Revolutionary Theory and Practice* (Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 1991); Carlos Comitini, *Amílcar Cabral: The Weapon of Theory* (Rio de Janeiro: CODESRIA, 1980); Yusuf M. Dadoo, “Amílcar Cabral: Outstanding Leader of Africa’s Liberation Movements,” *African Communist* 53, no. 2 (1973): 38–43; Basil Davidson, *No Fist is Big Enough to Hide the Sky: The Liberation*

- of Guinea and Cape Verde: *Aspects of an African Revolution* (London: Zed, 1981); Basil Davidson, "On Revolutionary Nationalism: The Legacy of Cabral," *Latin American Perspectives* 11, no. 2 (1984): 15–42; John Fobanjong and Thomas Ranuga, eds., *The Life, Thought, and Legacy of Cape Verde's Freedom Fighter Amílcar Cabral (1924–1973): Essays on His Liberation Philosophy* (Lewiston, NY: Mellen Press, 2006); Carlos Lopes, ed., *Africa's Contemporary Challenges: The Legacy of Amílcar Cabral* (London: Routledge, 2010); Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher, eds., *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amílcar Cabral* (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013); Peter Karibe Mendy, *Amílcar Cabral: A Nationalist and Pan-Africanist Revolutionary* (Athens: Ohio University Press, 2019); Jock McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution: The Political Theory of Amílcar Cabral* (London: Routledge and Kegan Paul, 1983); Anatolii Vladimirovich Nikanorov, *Amílcar Cabral* (Moscow: Novosti Press, 1973); Oscar Oramas, *Amílcar Cabral: Para Além do seu Tempo* (Praia: Universidade de Cabo Verde Press, 1998); Dessalegn Rahmato, *Cabral and the Problem of the African Revolution* (Addis Ababa: Addis Ababa University Press, 1982); Paul Khalil Saucier, ed., *A Luta Continua: (Re)Introducing Amílcar Cabral to a New Generation of Thinkers* (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2017); António Tomás, *Amílcar Cabral: The Life of a Reluctant Nationalist* (London: Hurst Publishers, 2019); Patricia Villen, *Amílcar Cabral e a Crítica ao Colonialismo* (São Paulo: Expressão Popular, 2013).
- 4 For more detailed discussion of Cabralism, see Reiland Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism: Amílcar Cabral and Africana Critical Theory* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2014), esp., 1–28. For further discussion of the Pan-African idea and movement, see William B. Ackah, *Pan-Africanism: Exploring the Contradictions – Politics, Identity, and Development in Africa and the African Diaspora* (London: Routledge, 2016); Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018); Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787* (London: Routledge, 2003); Adekunle Ajala, *Pan-Africanism: Evolution, Progress, and Prospects* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1974); Bankie Forster Bankie and Kingo J. Mchombu, eds., *Pan-Africanism/African Nationalism: Strengthening the Unity of Africa and Its Diaspora* (Trenton: Red Sea Press, 2008); Peter Olisanwuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991* (Washington, D.C.: Howard University Press, 1994); Toyin Falola and Kwame Essien, eds., *Pan-Africanism: The Politics of African Citizenship and Identity* (London: Routledge, 2015); C.L.R. James, *A History of Pan-African Revolt* (New York: Haskell House Publishers, 1969); J. Ayodele Langley, *Pan-Africanism and Nationalism in West Africa, 1900–1945* (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1973); Colin Legum, *Pan-Africanism: A Short Political Guide* (Westport: Greenwood Press, 1976); Boatamo Mosupye and Mogobe B. Ramose, *The Development of Thought in Pan-Africanism* (Dubuque: Kendall Hunt, 2011); Mammo Muchie, ed., *The Making of the Africa-Nation: Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance* (London: Adonis & Abbey Publishers, 2003); Don C. Ohadike, *Pan-African Culture of Resistance: A History of Liberation Struggles in Africa and the Diaspora* (Binghamton: Global Academic Publishing, 2002); Vincent Bakpetu Thompson, *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism* (London: Longman, 1977); Ronald W. Walters, *Pan-Africanism in the African Diaspora: An Analysis of Modern Afrocentric Political Movements* (Detroit: Wayne State University Press, 2000).
 - 5 On Cabral's concept of "return to the source," see Amílcar Cabral, *Return to the Source: Selected Speeches of Amílcar Cabral* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1973); Charles F. Peterson, "Returning to the African Core: Cabral and the Erasure of the Colonized Elite," in Charles F. Peterson, Du Bois, Fanon, *Cabral: The Margins of Elite Anti-Colonial Leadership* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2007), 115–138; Tsenay Serequeberhan, "Amílcar Cabral's 'Return to the Source': A Reading," in *A Luta Continua: (Re)Introducing Amílcar Cabral to a New Generation of Thinkers*, ed. Paul Khalil Saucier (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2017), 69–85. For further discussion of Cabral's conceptions of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary re-Africanization, see Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 39–56, esp. 43–45; Amílcar Cabral, *Selected Texts by Amílcar Cabral* (London: Stage One, 1969). Finally, for further discussion of the Partido Africano da Independência da Guiné e Cabo Verde (PAIGC), see Sónia Vaz Borges, *Militant Education, Liberation Struggle, Consciousness: The PAIGC Education in Guinea Bissau, 1963–1978* (Berlin: Peter Lang Edition, 2019); Chabal, *Amílcar Cabral*, 54–131; Gerard Chaliand, *Guinée "Portugaise" et Cap Vert n lutent pour leur indépendance* (Paris: François Maspero, 1964); Gerard Chaliand, *Armed Struggle in Africa: With the Guerrillas in Portuguese Guinea* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1969); Davidson, *No Fist is Big Enough to Hide the Sky*; Mustafah Dhada, *Warriors at Work: How Guinea was Really Set Free* (Niwtot: University Press of Colorado, 1993); Carlos Lopes, *Guinea-Bissau: From Liberation Struggle to Independent Statehood* (Boulder: Westview, 1987); McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution*, 11–58; Al J. Venter, *Portugal's Guerrilla*

- Wars in Africa: Lisbon's Three Wars in Angola, Mozambique and Portuguese Guinea, 1961–1974* (Solihull, West Midlands: Helion & Company, 2013), 225–338.
- 6 Amilcar Cabral, *Unity and Struggle: Speeches and Writings of Amilcar Cabral* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1979), 151–152. See also Peterson, “Returning to the African Core,” 115–138.
 - 7 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 152. On Frantz Fanon’s concepts of revolutionary decolonization and revolutionary self-defensive violence, see Reiland Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism: Frantz Fanon’s Critical Theory and the Dialectics of Decolonization* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2010), 97–144.
 - 8 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 63, all emphasis in original. For further discussion of Aime Cesaire’s conception of “return,” see Reiland Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement: W.E.B. Du Bois, Leon Damas, Aime Cesaire, Leopold Senghor, Frantz Fanon, and the Evolution of an Insurgent Idea* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2015), 149–196.
 - 9 Ibid., 63. In “The African Intellectual and the Problem of Class Suicide,” Maulana Karenga asserted, Cabral “argue[d] that making the choice of not betraying but leading the revolution and the masses requires that the revolutionary petty bourgeoisie commit class suicide For Cabral, then, class suicide by the petty bourgeoisie is a process of transformed thought and transforming practice. It involves at a minimum the thrust to: (1) ‘strengthen its revolutionary consciousness’; (2) ‘reject the temptation of becoming more bourgeois and the natural concerns of its class mentality’; (3) ‘identify with the working-classes’; and (4) ‘be reborn as revolutionary workers, completely identified with the deepest aspirations of the people to which they belong.’” See Maulana Karenga, “The African Intellectual and the Problem of Class Suicide: Ideological and Political Dimensions,” in *African Culture: The Rhythms of Unity*, eds. Molefi K. Asante and Kariamu Welsh Asante (Westport, CT: Greenwood, 1985), 92–93. The final four points Karenga emphasized were drawn from Amilcar Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea: Selected Texts*, trans. and ed. Richard Handyside (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1972), 109–110.
 - 10 Karenga, “The African Intellectual and the Problem of Class Suicide,” 93–104.
 - 11 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 63.
 - 12 On the Africana tradition of critical theory (or, rather, Africana critical theory), see Reiland Rabaka, “Africana Critical Theory of Contemporary Society: Ruminations on Radical Politics, Social Theory, and Africana Philosophy,” in *The Handbook of Black Studies*, eds. Molefi Kete Asante and Maulana Karenga (Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage, 2006), 130–151; Reiland Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory: Reconstructing the Black Radical Tradition, from W.E.B. Du Bois and C.L.R. James to Frantz Fanon and Amilcar Cabral* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2009); Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*; Reiland Rabaka, “Contours of Cabralism: Amilcar Cabral’s Contributions to the Africana Tradition of Critical Theory,” in *A Luta Continua: (Re)Introducing Amilcar Cabral to a New Generation of Thinkers*, ed. Paul Khalil Saucier (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2017), 1–48; Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement*. For further discussion of the cultural revolution thesis within the Pan-African/black radical tradition, see Kwame Nkrumah, *The Handbook of Revolutionary Warfare* (New York: International Publishers, 1968); Kwame Nkrumah, *Africa Must Unite* (New York: International Publishers, 1970); Kwame Nkrumah, *Class Struggle in Africa* (New York: International Publishers, 1970); Kwame Nkrumah, *Revolutionary Path* (London: Panaf Books, 1973); Kwame Nkrumah, *The Struggle Continues* (London: Panaf Books, 1973); Julius Kambarage Nyerere, *Freedom and Unity/Uhuru na Umoja: A Selection From Writings and Speeches, 1952–1965* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1966); Julius Kambarage Nyerere, *Freedom and Socialism/Uhuru na Ujamaa: A Selection from Writings and Speeches, 1965–1967* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1968); Julius Kambarage Nyerere, *Freedom and Development/Uhuru na Maendeleo: A Selection from Writings and Speeches, 1968–1973* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1973); Julius Kambarage Nyerere, *Man and Development/Binadamu na Maendeleo* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1974); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Toward Full Re-Africanization: Policy and Principles of the Guinea Democratic Party* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1959); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Africa and the Revolution* (London: Panaf Books, 1972); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Africa and Imperialism* (Newark, NJ: Jihad Publishing, 1973); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Cultural Revolution* (London: Panaf Books, 1977); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *The Technique of Revolution* (London: Panaf Books, 1978); Ahmed Sekou Toure, *Africa on the Move* (London: Panaf Books, 1979).
 - 13 Tsenay Serequeberhan, *The Hermeneutics of African Philosophy: Horizon and Discourse* (New York: Routledge, 1994), 107.
 - 14 Amilcar Cabral, *National Liberation and Culture: The Eduardo Mondlane Memorial Lecture*, trans. Maureen Webster (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1970), passim; Amilcar Cabral, “The

- Role of Culture in the Struggle,” in Amílcar Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, trans. and ed. Dan Wood (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2016), 159–180. See also Henry Bienen, “State and Revolution: The Work of Amílcar Cabral,” *Journal of Modern African Studies* 15, no. 4 (1977): 555–568; Ada Milani, “Decolonizing the Mind: Amílcar Cabral and Cultural Resistance as a Weapon against Foreign Domination,” *Altre Modernità* 16 (2016): 66–77; McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution*, 82–91; Maurice Taonezvi Vambe and Abebe Zegeye, “Amílcar Cabral: National Liberation as the Basis for Africa’s Renaissances,” *Rethinking Marxism* 20, no. 2 (2008): 188–200.
- 15 For further discussion of *Africanité*, see Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement*, 200–224.
- 16 Frantz Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, trans. Constance Farrington (New York: Grove, 1968), 36–37. See also Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 49–144.
- 17 Serequeberhan, *The Hermeneutics of African Philosophy*, 102–115.
- 18 Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 232.
- 19 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 68, all emphasis in original. See also Shubi L. Ishemo, “Culture and Historical Knowledge in Africa: A Cabralian Approach,” *Review of African Political Economy* 31, no. 99 (2004): 65–82.
- 20 Frantz Fanon, *Black Skin, White Masks*, trans. Charles Lam Markmann (New York: Grove, 1967), 17–40.
- 21 Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, 75–156; Amílcar Cabral, *Our People Are Our Mountains: Amílcar Cabral on Guinean Revolution* (Nottingham, UK: Russell Press, 1971); Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea*; Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 206–248; Milani, “Decolonizing the Mind,” *passim*; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 183–218; Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 271–304.
- 22 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 143. On Cabral’s conception of the “weapon of theory,” see Amílcar Cabral, “The Weapon of Theory,” in Amílcar Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea: Selected Texts*, trans. and ed. Richard Handyside (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1972), 90–111; Reiland Rabaka, “The Weapon of Theory: Amílcar Cabral and African Critical Theory,” in *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amílcar Cabral*, eds. Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013), 109–126.
- 23 Amílcar Cabral, *La Descolonización del África Portuguesa: Guinea-Bissau*, trans. Victor Fischman (Buenos Aires: Ediciones Periferia, 1975); Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 183–218; Reiland Rabaka, “The Weapon of Critical Theory: Amílcar Cabral, Cabralism, and African Critical Theory,” in Amílcar Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, trans. and ed. Dan Wood (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2016), 3–42.
- 24 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 150. See also Cabral, “The Role of Culture in the Struggle,” 167–173; José Neves, “Ideology, Science, and People in Amílcar Cabral,” *História, Ciências, Saúde – Manguinhos* 24, no. 2 (2017): 333–347.
- 25 Here it is important to observe that Cabral’s emphasis on a “critical analysis of African cultures,” and the development of a dialectical approach to Africa’s wide-ranging histories, cultures, and struggles intersects and overlaps with seminal ideas advanced by the Negritude Movement and its most noted intellectual heir and discursive detractor, Frantz Fanon. For further discussion, see Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 111–305; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 31–148; Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 72–88, 103–112, 169–179; Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement*, 89–344.
- 26 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 150. See also David Fistein, “The Diplomatic Achievements of Amílcar Cabral: A Case Study of Effective Leadership in a Small African State,” in *Leadership in Colonial Africa: Disruption of Traditional Frameworks and Patterns*, ed. Baba Galleh Jallow (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2014), 69–100; Mendy, *Amílcar Cabral*, 156–165.
- 27 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 152. See also Dan Wood, “Descolonizando las Historias Biopolíticas con Amílcar Cabral,” *Tabula Rasa: Revista de Humanidades* 20 (2014): 69–87.
- 28 Maryinez Hubbard, “Culture and History in a Revolutionary Context: Approaches to Amílcar Cabral,” *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies* 3, no. 3 (1973): 72.
- 29 *Ibid.*, 72.
- 30 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 150.
- 31 *Ibid.*, 150. See also Dan Wood, “Imbrications of Coloniality: An Introduction to Cabralist Critical Theory in Relation to Contemporary Struggles,” in Amílcar Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, trans. and ed. Dan Wood (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield International, 2016), 43–69.
- 32 See Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea*, 134–151; Timothy W. Luke, “Cabral’s Marxism: An African Strategy for Socialist Development,” *Studies in Comparative Communism* 14, no. 4 (1981): 307–330;

- Bernard Magubane, "Amilcar Cabral: Evolution of Revolutionary Thought," *Ufahamu: A Journal of African Studies* 2, no. 2 (1971): 71–87; Charles McColester, "The Political Thought of Amilcar Cabral," *Monthly Review* 24, no. 10 (1973): 10–21; Mendy, *Amilcar Cabral*, 98–165.
- 33 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 55, all emphasis in original.
- 34 See Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, 75–156; Chabal, *Amilcar Cabral*, 167–187; Ameth Lo, "Amilcar Cabral and the Pan-African Revolution," in *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amilcar Cabral*, eds. Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013), 61–78; Olufemi Taiwo, "Cabral, Culture, Progress, and the Metaphysics of Difference," in *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amilcar Cabral*, eds. Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013), 355–364.
- 35 See Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 35–95; Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 97–215; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 113–142.
- 36 Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 151–251.
- 37 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 78. See also Grant Farred, "'Living in an Open Parentheses': A Cabralian Theory for the Postcolonial," in *A Luta Continua: (Re)Introducing Amilcar Cabral to a New Generation of Thinkers*, ed. Paul Khalil Saucier (Trenton: Africa World Press, 2017), 153–172; Lo, "Amilcar Cabral and the Pan-African Revolution"; John Fobanjong, "Articulating Cabral's Regionalist and Pan-Africanist Visions," *African Identities* 4, no. 1 (2006): 113–125; Explo Nani-Kofi, "Amilcar Cabral and Pan-Africanism," in *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amilcar Cabral*, eds. Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013), 345–352.
- 38 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 62–69; McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution*, 82–91; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 220–231.
- 39 Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, 75–179; Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 39–69; Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea*, 90–126; Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 28–82; Davidson, "On Revolutionary Nationalism"; Hubbard, "Culture and History in a Revolutionary Context"; Luke, "Cabral's Marxism"; Mendy, *Amilcar Cabral*, 98–165.
- 40 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 62–69; Chabal, *Amilcar Cabral*, 182–187; Mendy, *Amilcar Cabral*, 156–165; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 219–251.
- 41 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 75–92; Cabral, *Revolution in Guinea*, 76–85, 152–164; Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 160–173. See also Yves Benot, "Amilcar Cabral and the International Working-Class Movement," *Latin American Perspectives* 11, no. 2 (1984): 81–96; McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution*, 110–128; Maria Probert, "Revolutionary Democracy, Class Consciousness, and Cross-Class Movement," in *Claim No Easy Victories: The Legacy of Amilcar Cabral*, eds. Firoze Manji and Bill Fletcher (Dakar, Senegal: CODESRIA/Daraja Press, 2013), 239–248.
- 42 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 56–57; Serequeberhan, *The Hermeneutics of African Philosophy*, 32. See also Tsenay Serequeberhan, "The African Anti-Colonial Struggle: An Effort at Reclaiming History," *Philosophia Africana* 6, no. 1 (2003): 47–58.
- 43 Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 233, 235. See also, Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 165–283; Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 122–141; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 219–251.
- 44 Herbert Marcuse, "A Revolution in Values," in Herbert Marcuse, *Towards a Critical Theory of Society: Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 2*, ed. Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 2001), 193–201; Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 36.
- 45 Herbert Marcuse, "Cultural Revolution," in Herbert Marcuse, *Towards a Critical Theory of Society: Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 2*, ed. Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 2001), 121–162; Herbert Marcuse, "Liberation from the Affluent Society," in *Critical Theory and Society: A Reader*, eds. Stephen E. Bronner and Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 1989), 276–287.
- 46 Cabral, *Unity and Struggle*, 56–57. See also Borges, *Militant Education, Liberation Struggle, Consciousness*, 53–158.
- 47 *Ibid.*, 57.
- 48 Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, 35–106. See also Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 271–304.
- 49 Marcuse, "Liberation from the Affluent Society," 282.
- 50 Obviously, along with Cabral and Fanon, here Herbert Marcuse's critical theory has been incredibly influential on my conception of the "new human beings" or "new humanity" that revolutionary decolonization, especially as conceived of by Cabral and Fanon, brings into being. Other key works by Marcuse that have informed my analysis here, include Herbert Marcuse, *One-Dimensional Man: Studies in the Ideology of Advanced Industrial Society* (Boston: Beacon, 1964); Herbert Marcuse,

- “Repressive Tolerance,” in Robert Paul Wolff, Barrington Moore and Herbert Marcuse, *A Critique of Pure Tolerance* (Boston: Beacon, 1965), 81–118; Herbert Marcuse, *An Essay on Liberation* (Boston: Beacon, 1969); Herbert Marcuse, “The End of Utopia,” in Herbert Marcuse, *Five Lectures: Psychoanalysis, Politics, and Utopia* (Boston: Beacon, 1970), 62–82; Herbert Marcuse, *Counter-Revolution and Revolt* (Boston: Beacon, 1972); Herbert Marcuse, *Technology, War, and Fascism: The Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 1*, ed. Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 1997); Marcuse, *Towards a Critical Theory of Society*; Herbert Marcuse, *The New Left and the 1960s: The Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 3*, ed. Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 2004); Herbert Marcuse, *Art and Liberation: The Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 4*, ed. Douglas Kellner (New York: Routledge, 2007); Herbert Marcuse, *Philosophy, Psychoanalysis, and Emancipation: The Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 5*, eds. Douglas Kellner and Clayton Pierce (New York: Routledge, 2011); Herbert Marcuse, *Marxism, Revolution, and Utopia: The Collected Papers of Herbert Marcuse, Volume 6*, eds. Douglas Kellner and Clayton Pierce (New York: Routledge, 2014).
- 51 Cabral, “The Role of Culture in the Struggle,” 159–179. See also Peter Karibe Mendy, “Amilcar Cabral and the Liberation of Guinea-Bissau: Context, Challenges, and Lessons for Effective African Leadership,” *African Identities* 4, no. 1 (2006): 7–21.
 - 52 Cabral, *Resistance and Decolonization*, 115–138; Chabal, *Amilcar Cabral*, 188–219; McCulloch, *In the Twilight of Revolution*, 82–91; Alexis Wick, “Manifestations of Nationhood in the Writings of Amilcar Cabral,” *African Identities* 4, no. 1 (2006): 45–70.
 - 53 Cabral, *Return to the Source*, 42.
 - 54 Chabal, *Amilcar Cabral*, 182–187.
 - 55 Ibid., 187.
 - 56 For critiques of the Eurocentrism often embedded in much of what currently passes as “Marxism,” “radical politics,” and “critical social theory,” see Anthony Bogues, *Black Heretics, Black Prophets: Radical Political Intellectuals* (New York: Routledge, 2003); Babacar Camara, *Marxist Theory, Black/African Specificities, and Racism* (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2010); Manning Marable, *How Capitalism Underdeveloped Black America: Problems in Race, Political Economy, and Society* (Chicago: Haymarket Books, 2015); Charles W. Mills, *From Class to Race: Essays in White Marxism and Black Radicalism* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003); Lucius T. Outlaw, *On Race and Philosophy* (New York: Routledge, 1996); Lucius T. Outlaw, *Critical Social Theory in the Interests of Black Folk* (Lanham: Rowman & Littlefield, 2005); Rabaka, *Africana Critical Theory*, 1–36; Rabaka, *Concepts of Cabralism*, 183–218; Rabaka, *Forms of Fanonism*, 145–215; Rabaka, *The Negritude Movement*, 179–192, 214–227; Cedric J. Robinson, *Black Marxism: The Making of the Black Radical Tradition* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000); Cedric J. Robinson, *An Anthropology of Marxism* (Aldershot, UK: Ashgate, 2001); Walter Rodney, *How Europe Underdeveloped Africa* (Washington, D.C.: Howard University Press, 1972); Tsenay Serequeberhan, “Karl Marx and African Emancipatory Thought: A Critique of Marx’s Eurocentric Metaphysics,” *Praxis International* 10, nos. 1/2 (1990): 161–181; Serequeberhan, *The Hermeneutics of African Philosophy*, 87–115.

Pan-Africanism and the anti-colonial movement in southern Africa, 1950s–1990s

Tavengwa Gwekwerere

Introduction

As a region, southern Africa presents a critical discursive pedestal from which to explore manifestations, victories, prospects and challenges of Pan-Africanism on the African continent. This is so on account of three basic reasons. First, southern Africa can be considered a region of the continent which, compared to others, benefitted immensely from Pan-African praxis in the unfolding of its anti-colonial struggles from the 1950s to the 1990s. Home to no less than five countries (Angola, Mozambique, Namibia, South Africa and Zimbabwe) in which liberation wars had to be fought in order to dislodge colonialism, the region owes its anti-colonial success story to Pan-Africanism as inspired by the Organization of African Unity (OAU) and its African Liberation Committee (ALC). From other southern African countries such as Botswana, Congo, Malawi, Tanzania and Zambia, anti-colonial movements fighting for the liberation of Angola (People's Movement for the Liberation of Angola – MPLA, National Liberation Front of Angola – FNLA and National Union for the Total Independence of Angola – UNITA), Mozambique (Front for the Liberation of Mozambique – FRELIMO and Comité Revolucionario de Mocambique – COREMO), Namibia (South West African People's Organization – SWAPO and South West African National Union – SWANU), South Africa (African National Congress – ANC and Pan-Africanist Congress – PAC) and Zimbabwe (Zimbabwe African National Union – ZANU and Zimbabwe African People's Union – ZAPU) obtained financial, military and diplomatic support indispensable to the pursuit of the agenda of liberation in the region. Thus, there exists a sense in which southern Africa of the 1950s–1990s is exemplary in its representation of Pan-Africanism as a consciousness with the capacity to inspire agency beyond specific national priorities.¹ To be sure, this is not to imply that Pan-African solidarity as forged and experienced in southern Africa was a perfect affair that did not have its share of challenges. Indeed, a compendium of challenges obtained, but it has to be noted that these have been so emphasized that it now appears as if Pan-Africanism is the reason why Africa is struggling to realize the onward movement of its people in what touches economic development,

social security, political stability, industrialization and cultural decolonization. Yet it stands to scrutiny that the story of the role played by Pan-Africanism in ushering Africa into independence on the basis of the agency and commitment of African people (Asante 1998, 2007; Karenga 2008) is yet to receive the celebration it deserves. In much the same way that Du Bois (1996, vii) bemoaned the fact that “[s]ince the rise of the sugar empire and the resultant cotton kingdom ... it is almost universally assumed that history can be truly written without reference to [African] people,” narratives on southern African anti-colonial struggles tend to write Pan-Africanism out of history through, among other things, the placement of emphasis on the role of the Cold War as singularly instrumental in creating the auspicious context for decolonization in Africa. Mazrui (2002) is one of many proponents of this view. The other tendency, best represented by Appiah (1993, 2018) and Ekpo (1995, 2010), is to indict Pan-Africanism for supposedly failing to weld African people into perfect unity. This chapter addresses the challenges attendant upon these perspectives through deliberate payment of homage to Pan-Africanism as “the idea and movement” (Esedebe 1994, 1) without which the liberation of southern Africa from colonial rule would be difficult even to imagine.

Second, discussing the manifestations, victories, prospects and challenges of Pan-Africanism on the African continent using southern Africa as an analytical vantage point is critical in light of the realization that the region is still largely governed by political parties that functioned as anti-colonial movements and were exemplary in their deployment of the Pan-African idea in the quest to dismantle colonialism. Except in Malawi and Zambia where Kamuzu Banda’s Malawi Congress Party (MCP) and Kenneth Kaunda’s United National Independence Party (UNIP) have since been toppled, ANC, BDP (Botswana Democratic Party), CCM (Chama cha Mapinduzi – birthed from the merger of Tanganyika African National Union – TANU, of mainland Tanzania and Afro-Shirazi Party – ASP, of Zanzibar), FRELIMO, MPLA, SWAPO and ZANU (now ZANU-PF (Patriotic Front) – after the 1987 merger with ZAPU), are still in power. This makes it worthwhile for scholars to begin to explore if these anti-colonial movements have maintained their founding in, or strayed, from the principles of Pan-Africanism and its emphasis on commitment to the revolutionary development of the region, and the continent, that inspired them when they fought to end the aggravation visited upon African people by colonialism. A cursory look at this question reveals that almost all these anti-colonial movements have thrived by paying lip-service to Pan-Africanism, abusing and misrepresenting it in the process. Meanwhile, the bulk of the scholarship that explores southern Africa’s post-independence challenges explains them as indicative of the failure of Pan-Africanism (Bond and Manyanya, 2002; Hammar et al. 2010; Mhanda 2011; Bratton 2016). In such scholarship, the attempt is hardly made to explore the ways in which Pan-Africanism can be re-centered as the receptacle of socio-economic, cultural and political values that can take Africa into the expansive future that its people desire. This chapter brings the accomplishments of the golden age of continental Pan-Africanism (1950s–1990s) into sharp focus with a view to arguing that if African people reconnect with the consciousness inspired by Pan-Africanism as was the case in the unfolding of anti-colonial struggles in southern Africa, it will be possible to achieve the kind of development that ensures, for instance, the security of the continent’s resources from exploitation by non-African interests (Nkrumah 1965; Turok 1987).

The third reason why southern Africa presents an important discursive pedestal from which to explore manifestations, victories, prospects and challenges of Pan-Africanism on the African continent has to do with the region’s developing identity as a hub of political contradictions that will either expedite or delay the realization of the continent’s cherished dreams. With the advent of Julius Malema’s Economic Freedom Fighters (EFF) in South

Africa and its self-construction as a vibrant Pan-Africanist organization, the rise of neo-liberal politics signaled by the victory of Frederick Chiluba's Movement for Multi-Democracy (MMD) in Zambia's 1991 elections, the triumph of Bakili Muluzi's United Democratic Front (UDF) in Malawi's 1994 elections and the narrow margins by which ZANU-PF has had to survive Movement for Democratic Change (MDC) electoral challenges in Zimbabwe, it is critical to look back in order to make sense of the present and determine the best way into the future. This is especially important, considering the array of ways in which both old and new imperialists are not only tightening their grip on the region but also doing so with the blessing of both emerging neo-liberal political parties and erstwhile liberation movements that presently hold power.

Taking the foregoing into account, this chapter discusses the manifestations, victories, prospects and challenges of Pan-Africanism in southern Africa from the 1950s to the 1990s. It achieves this through focusing on the revolutionary praxis of anti-colonial movements in this region and the commitment of independent African countries to the emancipation of fellow Africans in the settler-colonial states that would morph into Angola, Mozambique, Namibia, South Africa and Zimbabwe with the advent of their independence. The focus of this chapter is informed by the recognition that while Pan-Africanism is indispensable in the unfolding of the African quest to self-reconstruct and emerge into full significance in world affairs,² it has also been disfigured in southern Africa by politicians vying to maintain their hold on power. Meanwhile, the rise in Afrophobic violence in South Africa over the past decade also makes it pertinent that questions be raised about the ways in which historical amnesia and narrow conceptions of southern African issues could be considered instrumental in framing the region's contemporary conversations with Pan-Africanism. This makes this chapter's focus on Pan-Africanism in southern Africa timely in that it speaks directly to the need for an empowering appreciation of Pan-Africanism in the broad context of the continent's visions of the future as framed in Agenda 2063. As the African Union's (AU) plan of action in which it is envisaged that by 2063, Africa will have realized the founding fathers' dream of a United Africa, peace and stability by 2020, agricultural modernization and poverty eradication by 2025 and consensus on the nature of continental unity and its underlying institutions by 2030, Agenda 2063 is premised on the hope that the continent will return to the solidarity that underpinned the struggle for freedom from colonial rule. In terms of this plan of action, it is critical that as African people work toward the materialization of the continent's founding fathers' dream of a culturally, politically and economically integrated Africa, the idea by which this reconstruction agenda will be realized has to be availed for deeper appreciation. This is vital, given the upsurge in scholarship that chastises Pan-Africanism for Africa's challenges. As noted earlier, such scholarship does not endeavor to disentangle authentic Pan-Africanism from its distortions championed by African elites immersed in the struggle to retain political power (Gwekwerere and Mpondi 2018) at any cost. Thus, this chapter eschews the easy option of discrediting Pan-Africanism and embraces the responsibility of liberating the idea in order to bring into view the limitless range of possibilities that it embodies for an authentic African reconstruction quest (Momoh 2003; Adogamhe 2008; Gwekwerere and Mheta 2012; Gwekwerere 2014).

Independent African states, anti-colonial movements and Pan-Africanism

With the benefit of hindsight, it can be argued that anti-colonial Pan-Africanism of the 1950s–1990s represents the golden age of Pan-Africanism in Africa, particularly in southern

Africa. To begin with, anti-colonial Pan-Africanists correctly identified the responsibility of their generation as that of liberating the continent from colonialism. They accepted this responsibility and successfully ushered in the continent's political independence (Wa Thiong'o 2010, 2016). In ways that resonated with the realization that "each generation must discover its mission, fulfill it or betray it, in relative opacity" (Fanon 2004, 145), anti-colonial Pan-Africanists of the 1950s–1990s demonstrated, through the organizations they formed and the movements they started, that they understood that "there [wa]s work to be done ... tears to be wiped away, inhuman attitudes to be fought, condescending ways of speech to be ruled out, men to be humanized, houses to be built, schools to be opened, roads to be laid out, slums to be torn down, cities to be made to spring from the earth, men and women and children to be adorned with smiles" (Fanon 1964, 16). They distinguished between immediate and international obstacles to the emancipation of the continent (Achebe 1988) and resolved, as Nkrumah (quoted in Esedebe 1994, 168) would enjoin, to "seek the political kingdom first," in hopes that all else would follow. The resolve of this generation of continental Pan-Africanists to rid the continent of colonial rule is manifest in countless areas, but the resolutions of the 1945 Pan-African Congress are outstanding:

If the western world is still determined to rule mankind by force, then Africans ... may have to appeal to force in the effort to achieve freedom, even if force destroys them and the world. We are determined to be free. We want education. We want the right to earn a decent living; the right to express our thoughts and emotions, to adopt and create forms of beauty. We demand for Black Africa autonomy and independence ... We are unwilling to starve any longer while doing the world's drudgery, in order to support by our poverty and ignorance, a false aristocracy and discarded imperialism ... We will make the world listen to the facts of our condition. We will fight in every way we can for freedom, democracy and social betterment.

(Asante & Abarry 1996, 520)

The militancy of the resolutions of the 1945 Pan-African Congress found immediate manifestation in the Kenya Land and Freedom Army's struggle against the British in Kenya in the early 1950s, risings against the French in Algeria, Tunisia, Morocco, Cameroon and Madagascar, and armed liberation movements to dislodge the Portuguese in Angola, Mozambique, Guinea Bissau and Cape Verde, the British in Zimbabwe and the apartheid system in South Africa and Namibia (Gwekwerere 2014). What is enlightening in the development of these anti-colonial struggles and movements is that "while anti-colonial African nationalist movements may have received material and financial support from the former Soviet Union, China, Yugoslavia, Cuba and other socialist countries, the realization of the urgency of African freedom is entirely an African realization" (Gwekwerere 2014, 38). The pursuit of this realization from a Pan-African standpoint would be inspired by an equally important understanding of the African challenge of the time as one that impacted all African people and required them all to think in terms of solidarity and collective action, as Fanon (2004, 150) explains:

Colonialism, little troubled by nuances, has always claimed that the "nigger" was a savage, not an Angolan or a Nigerian, but a "nigger". For colonialism, this vast continent was a den of savages, infested with superstitions and fanaticism, destined to be despised, cursed by God, a land of cannibals, a land of "niggers". Colonialism's condemnation is continental in scale. Colonialism's claim that the precolonial period was akin

to a darkness of the human soul refers to the entire continent of Africa. The colonized's endeavors to rehabilitate himself and escape the sting of colonialism obey the same logic.

Kwame Nkrumah (Ghana), Sekou Toure (Guinea) and Modibo Keita (Mali) understood this more than all the other African leaders of their time, particularly Nkrumah, given his view of the independence of Ghana as meaningless unless all of Africa was free. History is witness to his leading role in convening the Accra Conference and the All-African People's Conference (AAPC) in 1958 and his contributions towards the formation of the Organization of African Unity (OAU) in 1963. The Accra Conference became "the first time that African cooperation was discussed at government level and the first that African governments had in concert called on the colonial authorities to apply the principle of self-determination to their African possessions" (Esedebe 1994, 167). On the other hand, the AAPC brought together over 200 leaders and representatives of over 62 nationalist organizations and liberation movements fighting to put an end to colonial domination in various African countries. The birth of the OAU and the key role it would eventually play in seeing to the emancipation of the entire African continent has to be traced back to these conferences and the painstaking struggles of Nkrumah, Toure, Keita, Nyerere, Lumumba, Nasser, Kaunda, Khama, Selassie and other Pan-African leaders of the time.

With the establishment of the OAU also came the African Liberation Committee (ALC) through which the OAU sought to expedite the liberation of African countries that were still under colonial domination. Apparently, most of these were in southern Africa and as noted earlier, five of them had to fight wars of liberation to achieve freedom from colonial rule. On account of its standing as "an independent state with relatively stable political conditions" (Yousuf 1985, 56) and proximity to Angola, Mozambique, Namibia, South Africa and Zimbabwe where armed liberation struggles had to take place, Tanzania was selected to host the ALC. Although the ALC was hamstrung from the onset by recurrent budgetary challenges and contending approaches to liberation among African leaders in the OAU where some preferred gradualism and negotiated settlements with the colonial powers while others like Nkrumah, Toure and Keita advocated a radicalized approach to decolonization, it is exemplary in its personification of African people's commitment to the liberation of their countries. Among other responsibilities, the ALC had to see to the mobilization of financial and material resources as well as international sentiment in favor of the liberation of the continent. As a result of the agency of the ALC, southern African liberation movements such as ANC and PAC (South Africa) and SWAPO (Namibia) earned recognition and observer status in the General Assembly of the United Nations (UN). Other organizations such as the Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) also recognized southern African liberation movements on the back of the diplomatic exertions of the ALC. From its headquarters in Dar es Salaam, the ALC identified liberation movements that the OAU needed to support in various African countries. It also "sought to reconcile differences among national revolutionary groups so as to unify their forces" (Yousuf 1985, 58) with a view to empowering them to present a united front against colonialism. The merging of Mozambique African National Union (MANU), Union Democratica Nacional de Mozambique (UDENAMO) and Uniao Africana de Mozambique Undependente (UNAMI) to create FRELIMO occurred in the context of this spirit. Following this merger, Tanzania provided FRELIMO with bases from which to launch the armed struggle for the liberation of Mozambique. It also ensured that over the years, FRELIMO received most of ALC aid earmarked for the struggle in Mozambique, largely because it was seen as more proactive in waging the struggle compared to

COREMO, for instance. In Zimbabwe, however, the ALC met with insurmountable challenges in the quest to unify ZANU and ZAPU. In large measure, these challenges had to do with ZANU claims, on the one hand, that it was doing most of the fighting and ZAPU's tendency, on the other, to look at ZANU fighters as inadequately trained. The two movements also differed in terms of ideology. Given that ZANU enjoyed Chinese support while ZAPU was backed by the then Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR), the ideological contestations between the two benefactors reflected in the nature of relations between ZANU and ZAPU. In Angola, the ALC managed to bring the FNLA and the MPLA in a short-lived 1972 union that excluded UNITA. Eventually, the ALC and the OAU decided on "supporting the idea of a government of national unity, accepting MPLA, FNLA and UNITA as genuine nationalist movements entitled to a place in such a government, recognizing the country's geographical integrity (including Cabinda) and opposing any external intervention" (Yousuf 1985, 63).

It is remarkable that as the home of the ALC, Tanzania would also serve as the major pedestal for the armed liberation of the entire southern African region. The liberation movements that eventually emerged victorious in Namibia (SWAPO), South Africa (ANC), Zimbabwe (ZANU), Angola (MPLA) and Mozambique (FRELIMO) were each, at one point or the other, hosted in Tanzania, then under the leadership of Mwalimu Julius Nyerere. It is also worth noting that even liberation movements that did not eventually manage to take over from the colonial powers were also hosted in Tanzania in the unraveling of their struggle to free their countries from colonial rule. Joshua Nkomo's ZAPU, Holden Roberto's FNLA and Robert Sobukwe's PAC are good examples. Indeed, it is incredible that with the end of British rule on December 9, 1961, Tanzania took less than a year to start setting up military training camps for freedom fighters from Angola, Mozambique, Namibia, South Africa and Zimbabwe. The first of these military training camps was Kongwa. As a pioneering camp, Kongwa hosted all the liberation movements that sought Tanzanian assistance in the early 1960s. With the deepening of the anti-colonial onslaught in the various southern African countries, Tanzania established more camps to cater for the increasing numbers of recruits as well as refugees fleeing destruction wrought by war in their countries, particularly after the Sharpeville Massacre (1960) and Soweto Uprising (1976) in South Africa. Among some of the training and refugee camps that came after Kongwa were Mgagao, Morogoro, Bagamoyo, Itumbi and Nachingwea. Itumbi and Mgagao were set aside for recruits and refugees from Angola, Namibia, South Africa and Zimbabwe while Nachingwea hosted Mozambican recruits and trainees. In the ensuing years, PAC, for instance, would establish more camps at Masuguru, Msungura, Kitonga and Pongwe while ANC settled down at Mbeya, Bagamoyo and Morogoro. ANC also received 250 acres of land at Mazimbu where it built an educational institution that has since been renamed the Solomon Mahlangu Freedom College. Mahlangu was an Umkhonto we Sizwe (military wing of the ANC) combatant who was hanged by the apartheid regime of South Africa for treason. In addition to these training camps, Tanzania provided office space in Dar es Salaam and security details for the leadership of the various liberation movements of southern Africa.

When Patrice Lumumba visited Ghana in 1960, he announced that Congo will come to the assistance of southern Africans fighting "in the Rhodesias, South Africa and Portuguese territories to attain independence" (Passemiers 2018, 1). Lumumba could not bring this vision to reality on account of his assassination in the very first year of his assumption of power in Congo. Yet it is encouraging to note that "for a moment, his successor, Cyrille Adoulla transformed Congo into a hub for southern African nationalists when he tried to create what has come to be called the Congo Alliance" (Passemiers 2018, 2). As Passemiers

(2018, 2) notes, the Congo Alliance was the putative transnational alliance between the Frente Nacional de Libertacao de Angola (FNLA), the Pan-Africanist Congress (PAC) of South Africa, the South West African People's Organization (SWAPO), the resurrected Uniao Democratica Nacional de Mocambique (UDENAMO) and the Zimbabwe African National Union (ZANU) that lasted from 1963 to 1964. The major beneficiary of this alliance was FNLA, followed by PAC. Invited by Lumumba to launch its campaign from Congo, the FNLA "opened its official headquarters in the capital city, received permission to broadcast political messages from a Leopoldville radio station, and increased its production of propaganda material to be distributed in Congo and Angola" (Passemiers 2018, 6). When FNLA formed Angola's Revolutionary Government in Exile (GRAE) in April 1962, Adoulla availed it the permission to train its fighters at Kinkuzu – "making Kinkuzu the first camp to be opened by a southern African liberation movement in exile in a host country" (Passemiers 2018, 7). Indeed, Congo's commitment to the liberation of southern Africa went beyond Holden Roberto's FNLA. As Prime Minister, Adoulla's priorities revolved around "transforming Congo into a centre of African nationalism" (Passemiers 2018, 12). The prioritization of southern African liberation movements in Congo reflects in the fact that "Adoulla also gave liberation movements permission to open offices at the appropriately named Maison des Nationalistes Africaines (House of African Nationalists) in Leopoldville" (Passemiers 2018, 12). In the House of African Nationalists, FNLA shared space with the PAC, SWAPO, ZANU, UDENAMO and Movimiento Nacional de Liberacion de la Guinea Equatorial (MONALIGE). Thus, regional anti-colonial dynamics in Congo of the early 1960s were such that Leopoldville momentarily became "a truly African nationalist centre" (Passemiers 2018, 14).

The commitment to anti-colonialism that Tanzania and Congo exemplified in the early 1960s is also manifest in Zambia, Botswana and Mozambique. With the advent of its independence in 1964 and the rise of Kenneth David Kaunda, Zambia availed resources to assist liberation movements in southern Africa. Major beneficiaries of Zambian assistance were ZANU and ZAPU (Zimbabwe), ANC (South Africa), MPLA (Angola) and SWAPO (Namibia). All these movements had office space in the precincts of the Liberation Centre in Lusaka. ZAPU, in particular, was able to establish training, transit and refugee camps in various parts of Zambia. The most significant of these included Freedom, Mkushi, Nampundwe, Mboroma, Mulungushi and Chikumbi camps. ANC underground radio station, Radio Freedom, operated from the Zambian capital, Lusaka. In addition to providing physical space, logistical and financial support, Zambia also spoke out strongly against apartheid in South Africa and colonial settlerism in Rhodesia (now Zimbabwe). In May 1986, for instance, President Kaunda threatened to withdraw from the Commonwealth if Britain resisted the imposition of sanctions on apartheid South Africa. Speaking in a telephone interview with the British Broadcasting Corporation, President Kaunda expressed dismay at the prospect of "sitting on the same table with Mrs. Thatcher ... a fellow leader who says black life is cheaper than gold" (quoted in Good 1987, 508). He protested the United States' volition to use aid as an instrument with which to impose silence over the system of apartheid in South Africa, drawing attention to the fact that:

There is no way I am going to change my thinking over the question of apartheid. Anybody wanting me to shut up is barking up the wrong tree. If President Reagan wants to withdraw aid from Zambia, he is welcome. He can go ahead.

(quoted in Good 1987, 509)

President Kaunda's opposition to apartheid also manifested in the financial support that southern African countries channeled to the region's anti-colonial movements. However, financial support to liberation movements was never adequate. Countries such as Malawi never contributed and others that had benefitted failed to plough back the assistance that had been availed to them. At the continental level, countries such as Chad, Ivory Coast, Central African Republic, Equatorial Guinea and Burkina Faso could not participate because they were steeped in their neo-colonial relationship with France. In southern Africa, Tanzania, Zambia, Mozambique and Angola were outstanding while Algeria, Ghana, Libya, Mali, Guinea and Nigeria made the difference at the continental level.

Pan-African alliances among anti-colonial movements

Pan-African commitment of independent African countries also reflected in the alliances that anti-colonial movements created among themselves to wage the struggle for freedom in southern Africa more effectively. The alliances that brought together FRELIMO and ZANU as well as ANC and ZAPU are indicative of the ways in which the movements involved in the anti-colonial struggle understood the importance of Pan-African solidarity. In the early 1970s, FRELIMO, fighting from Tanzania, first under the guidance of Eduardo Mondhlane and later Samora Machel, liberated Mozambique's northern provinces and invited ZAPU and ZANU to utilize the provinces it had liberated to mount the struggle against Rhodesia. ZANU took up the offer to fight the Rhodesian regime from Mozambique's Tete province while ZAPU decided to continue fighting from Zambia. In his discussion of ZANU's external networks during the anti-colonial struggle, Mazarire (2017) explains ZANU's cross-over from Lusaka to Tete against the backdrop of President Kaunda's preference of ZAPU over the former. By the mid 1970s, ZANU had established training, transit and refugee camps at Chimoio, Nyadzonia, Tembue and other places in Mozambique. As Munguambe (2017, 163) argues, "Frelimo's co-operation with ZANU was partly motivated by authentic solidarity with the cause of Zimbabwean liberation." FRELIMO's relationship with ZANU is significant on two accounts. The first is that FRELIMO could have easily worked with ZAPU since both were part of the so-called "Authentic six," that is, African liberation movements that were supported by the former Soviet Union. The other liberation movements in this group included the ANC, MPLA, SWAPO and the African Party for the Independence of Guinea and Cape-Verde (PAIGC). Unlike FRELIMO, ZANU, like PAC of South Africa, was backed by the Chinese. It is instructive that FRELIMO considered these dynamics and committed to working alongside ZANU from a Pan-African point of departure. The fact that ZANU had splintered from ZAPU, FRELIMO's fellow liberation movement in the "Authentic six" family, did little to deter FRELIMO from cooperating with ZANU. The second account on which this alliance is significant is that FRELIMO invited ZANU to fight from its liberated zones well before it assumed power in June 1975. This speaks to the sense of urgency with which FRELIMO, in much the same manner as independent Congo, Tanzania and Zambia before it, looked at the anti-colonial struggle in southern Africa. SWAPO, ANC and ZAPU also established the same kind of relationship with MPLA, but this was after Angola's attainment of independence in 1975. This alliance saw SWAPO, for instance, moving its headquarters to Luanda, the Angolan capital, while accessing military, financial and technical support alongside ZAPU and ANC at a time when Cuba and the former Soviet Union were also deeply immersed in the region's anti-colonial struggles following their successful intervention in Angola on the eve of its independence. Thus, Munguambe (2017, 162) emphasizes that:

Southern African liberation movements developed political and military co-operation with each other, establishing regional networks of patronage and dependence, fighting side by side, living in the same neighborhoods and camps, exchanging views and information, and hosting each other. It is in part because of this spirit of co-operation that the Frente de Libertação de Moçambique (FRELIMO) established political and military co-operation with the Zimbabwe African National Union (ZANU) in the early 1970s, to launch its offensive into Rhodesia alongside its own campaign in Mozambique. Following the dawn of Mozambican independence in 1975, FRELIMO allowed ZANU's military wing, the Zimbabwe African National Liberation Army (ZANLA), formally to establish guerrilla bases on Mozambican soil.

The Pan-African appreciation of the anti-colonial struggle that FRELIMO and ZANU demonstrated through commitment to operating jointly is also to be observed in the ANC-ZAPU alliance that, in fact, pre-dated the FRELIMO-ZANU initiative in Mozambique. In 1967, ANC and ZAPU agreed to jointly deploy their fighting forces in Rhodesia. A number of factors necessitated this development. First, both movements realized that the apartheid regime in South Africa had chosen to take its war on ANC by deploying in Rhodesia in hopes of shutting out ANC militants before they could infiltrate into South Africa from Zambia and Tanzania. Second, for the ANC's part, logistical considerations were paramount. As Thomas (1996, 16) opines:

One of the ANC's military objectives was to open up a supply route into the country. Umkhonto needed to solve its logistical problems of getting equipment and personnel from its bases in Tanzania and Zambia into South Africa. Its attempts in 1965 had been a failure. The ANC believed this could be accomplished through greater cooperation between liberation movements. Contrary to expectations, once Bechuanaland became independent in October 1966 (as Botswana) there was even less of a possibility to infiltrate Umkhonto combatants into South Africa. The newly independent country recognized that it needed to remain on good terms with its powerful southern neighbor.

The alliance between ANC and ZAPU resulted in their fighters seeing action jointly in the Wankie (now Hwange) battle of August 13, 1967, in north-western Zimbabwe. As Thomas (1996, 16) further notes "the Wankie campaign was a disaster." But this is beside the point. Even assertions to the effect that both ANC and ZAPU went into this alliance in order to out-flank the PAC and ZANU do not take away the Pan-African consciousness of the importance of solidarity between liberation movements that manifests in ANC and ZAPU efforts to pursue joint military operations. Instead, it is instructive that in the late 1970s, ANC and ZAPU revived this alliance as Zimbabwe drew close to independence while the apartheid regime in South Africa sought to fortify itself as the last bastion of white supremacist power in the region. With the revival of the ANC-ZAPU alliance, "the expectation was that, once the MK soldiers had established themselves in Zimbabwe, military operations would resume with incursions into 'northern Transvaal', Soutpansberg and Venda" (MacMillan 2017, 183). Although MacMillan (2017) describes the relationship between ANC and ZAPU as "this unusual alliance between liberation movements," he concedes that the infiltration of ANC militants into Rhodesia "began in early 1979 at the latest" and that "[i]t may indeed have been linked to what ZIPRA called the 'Turning Point', an intensification of military action that was officially announced in April 1979, but had begun in the previous year" (MacMillan 2017, 180). By the time the cease fire was announced to pave the way for the transition from Rhodesia to Zimbabwe in 1979, and

ZANLA and ZIPRA fighters started trekking into assembly points, ANC freedom fighters “had been fighting with ZIPRA forces throughout the year” (MacMillan 2017, 183), and Rhodesians had to send the hands of suspected ANC militants to South Africa “for fingerprint identification, as a way of confirming that MK cadres were fighting with ZIPRA – something that had been a closely guarded secret” (MacMillan 2017, 183).

Beyond the anti-colonial phase: Pan-Africanism in contemporary southern Africa

With the advent of independence in Namibia in 1990 and South Africa in 1994, southern Africa and the entire African continent closed the colonial chapter and eased into the age of self-determination. As the region extricated itself from colonialism, its independence also ushered in new dynamics that have greatly impacted Pan-Africanism. In large measure, the spirit of solidarity that presided over the unfolding of the anti-colonial movement still persisted. However, the erstwhile liberation movements that fought against colonialism and replaced the colonialists in the corridors of power became obsessed with maintaining themselves in power at the expense of deepening and solidifying the sense of solidarity that had been fostered by the decades of anti-colonial struggle in the region. In Zimbabwe, for example, ZANU’s military onslaught on ZAPU and the people of Matabeleland that resulted in the death of an estimated 20 000 Zimbabweans should not have been orchestrated by a ruling party that had itself benefitted from Pan-African solidarity during the years of the anti-colonial struggle. In South Africa, the aversion to Pan-African solidarity of the anti-colonial years is manifest in the ANC’s movement from radical deconstruction to democratization, centralization of the rainbow-nation concept, neo-liberalism and apparent trepidation in the face of racial inequality, white supremacy and the land question. Even more telling among the generality of the people in South Africa is the ease with which Africans from other countries are targeted and killed on the pretext that they are aliens who settle in the country to take the jobs that black South Africans are supposed to have. The characterization of these attacks as instances of xenophobia is misleading. South Africans who participate in these attacks seldom attack Europeans, Asians and other non-African people. Their prime targets are Africans from other parts of the continent. The dearth of Pan-African consciousness and memory of the contributions of other Africans to the success of the anti-colonial struggle in South Africa is clearly an important factor in explaining why black South Africans who engage in Afrophobic violence tend to direct their anger against Zimbabweans, Nigerians, Mozambicans, Malawians, Zambians, Somalians, Ethiopians and other African nationals living and working in South Africa. However, a glimmer of hope is furnished in South Africa by Julius Malema and EFF. EFF self-defines as a Pan-Africanist political organization and has been consistent, over the years, in its condemnation of Afrophobic violence and in reminding South Africans of their indebtedness to the entire African continent for their freedom. It has also been vocal in calling for a politically and economically integrated African continent and Pan-African institutions that will advance the progressive interests of all African people in authentic freedom and human dignity. EFF’s commitment to Pan-African principles goes beyond rhetoric. When the South African government sought to amend the country’s constitution in favor of compulsory land acquisition for black resettlement, for instance, EFF allied its vote with the ANC to empower the latter, as the governing party, to acquire the constitutional basis to compulsorily repossess land that was expropriated by white settler colonialists since Jan van Riebeeck landed at the Cape in 1652.

In the conduct of general elections, erstwhile liberation movements that are still in power in southern Africa and the Southern African Development Community (SADC) have tended to protect ruling parties that came out of the liberation struggle. This support has always been provided to former liberation movements now functioning in southern Africa as ruling parties without due regard of the voices of the millions who would have voted for political parties that supposedly lack Pan-African and liberation war credentials. This has not only enabled ruling parties of the region such as ZANU-PF in Zimbabwe to stay in power but also to misrepresent Pan-Africanism as an idea that works best only for political elites who possess liberation war credentials. Not surprisingly, generations born after the advent of independence in southern Africa tend to look at Pan-Africanism as an idea of the past. This is because the region's ruling parties that emerged from the battlefields of the anti-colonial war have been inclined to concentrate on the creation of a black, elitist, propertied class that thrives on a sense of entitlement to political power on account of having participated in the anti-colonial struggles of the 1950s-1990s. Thus, it stands to reason that the resistance that Pan-Africanism presently encounters in southern Africa among the younger generations arises because former liberation movements that came to power following the demise of colonialism failed to revolutionize economic and political institutions inherited from the deposed colonial regimes while simultaneously identifying themselves as Pan-African revolutionaries. While erstwhile liberation movements that assumed power with the advent of independence have tended to rubber-stamp the political charades that elections have become in Africa, they have not spoken openly or taken concrete steps to support progressive programs in other countries of the region. Zimbabwe, for instance, received virtually nothing in terms of support from other countries in southern Africa when it decided, twenty years after independence, to repossess land for black resettlement. South Africa and Namibia are making inroads into that struggle but there is not a single country in the region that has spoken in support of their envisaged land reform programs. Presumably, this could be so on account of the region's states being worried about maintaining good trading relations with Europe and America. Yet the fact of the matter is that with authentic Pan-African unity, none of the countries in southern Africa and indeed the entire African continent need Europe and America to survive. Thus, what is to be noted here is that contemporary southern Africa has strayed from the sense of Pan-African solidarity that drove Botswana, Congo, Tanzania, Zambia and, later, Angola and Mozambique after their independence in 1975, to support the region's anti-colonial struggles and risk, in the process, economic asphyxiation and military attack by Rhodesia and apartheid South Africa.

Conclusion

South Africa and Rhodesia stood predominant as economic powerhouses of the colonial era in southern Africa. These countries were also militarily more powerful than their independent African neighbors in the region. The havoc they wrought in the region through the bombardment of ANC, ZAPU and ZANU refugee, transit and military training camps in Zambia and Mozambique, for instance, speaks directly to their might. Yet it is telling that independent African states in southern Africa were willing to expose their economies and their people to assault by apartheid South Africa and colonial settler Rhodesia to ensure the demise of colonialism. Historians have nuanced the problematic aspects of this commitment, but seldom the odds that independent African states had to contend with in taking up the responsibility to assist their neighbors who still had to deal with colonialism. Thus, while the nuances of this struggle have been highlighted, it needs pointing out that these are nuances

of a story that has barely been told. The economic toll that countries such as Zambia, Tanzania and Mozambique had to contend with for assisting anti-colonial liberation movements has never been quantified. The sense of vulnerability and depths of psychological trauma that the citizens of these countries had to live with is yet to be assessed. Put differently, by emphasizing the problematic aspects of the relationship between and among African countries fighting for freedom in southern Africa and the independent African states that supported them, scholars of this history place the proverbial cart before the horse. They condemn narratives that celebrate the Pan-African sentiment that pervades the anti-colonial movement as instances of “patriotic history” (Ranger 2004, 1), notable for its perceived reluctance to question and complicate. While this emphasis is important, it has been presented as the only and indispensable perspective from which to see and interpret the past. Thus, what this chapter has done is to revisit the anti-colonial struggle in southern Africa and exhume the ways in which it speaks to the centrality of Pan-Africanism in Africa’s revolutionary struggles. *Inter alia*, the chapter also argued for the continued relevance and indispensability of Pan-Africanism in contemporary African struggles. The political forces that were assaulted by southern African liberation struggles relented and African countries transitioned into political independence on the back of Pan-Africanism. The struggle for industrialization and economic emancipation will need to centralize Pan-Africanism because Africa’s industrial and economic challenges are basically the same, from country to country, and so are the forces arraigned against its industrial and economic aspirations.

Notes

- 1 Tony Martin, *The Pan-African Connection: From Slavery to Garvey and Beyond*, (Massachusetts: The Majority Press, 1983), 3–30.
- 2 Ayi Kwei Armah, *Remembering the Dismembered Continent: Seedtime Essays*, (Penguin: Per Ankh, 2010), 7–10.

Bibliography

- Achebe, Chinua. 1988. *Anthills of the Savannah*. London: Heinemann Educational Publishers.
- Adogamhe, Paul. “Pan-africanism Revisited: vision and Reality of African Unity and Development.” *African Review of Integration* 2, 2 (2008): 1–34.
- Appiah, Anthony Kwame. 1993. *In My Father’s House: africa in the Philosophy of Culture*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Appiah, Anthony Kwame. 2018. *The Lies That Bind: rethinking Identity*. London: Profile Books.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. 1998. *The Afrocentric Idea*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press.
- Asante, Molefi Kete. 2007. *An Afrocentric Manifesto: toward an African Renaissance*. Cambridge, UK: Polity Press.
- Asante, Molefi Kete and Abu, Abarry, eds. 1996. *African Intellectual Heritage: A Book of Sources*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press.
- Bond, Patrick and Masimba, Manyanya. 2002. *Zimbabwe’s Plunge: exhausted Nationalism, Neoliberalism and the Search for Social Justice*. Harare: Weaver Press.
- Bratton, Michael. 2016. *Power Politics in Zimbabwe*. Durban, South Africa: University of KwaZulu-Natal Press.
- Du Bois, William Edward Burghardt. 1996. *The World and Africa: an Inquiry into the Part Which Africa Has Played in World History*. New York: International Publishers.
- Ekpo, Dennis. “Towards a Post-Africanism: contemporary African Thought and Post- Modernism.” *Textual Practice* 9, 1 (1995): 121–135. <http://dx.doi.org/10.1080/09502369508582214>.
- Ekpo, Dennis. “From Negritude to Post-Africanism.” *Third Text* 24, 2 (2010): 177–187. <https://doi.org/10.1080/09528821003722108>.

- Esedebe, Olisanwuche. 1994. *Pan-Africanism: the Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*. Washington, DC: Howard University Press.
- Fanon, Frantz. 1964. *Toward the African Revolution: political Essays*. Translated by Haakon Chevalier. New York: Groove Press.
- Fanon, Frantz. 2004. *The Wretched of the Earth*. Translated by Richard Philcox. New York: Groove Press.
- Good, Kenneth. “Zambia and the Liberation of South Africa.” *The Journal of Modern African Studies* 25, 3 (1987): 505–540.
- Gwekwerere, Tavengwa. “The African Diaspora in Continental African Struggles for Freedom: implications on the Criticism of African Renaissance Literature.” *South African Journal of African Languages* 34, 1 (2014): 35–40. <https://doi.org/10.1080/02572117.2014.949466>.
- Gwekwerere, Tavengwa and Mheta, Gift. “The Afrotriumphalist Commitment to Life in Freedom and Dignity in Trans-Atlantic African Literature.” *South African Journal of African Languages* 32, 2 (2012): 195–206. <https://doi.org/10.2989/SAJAL.2012.32.2.12.1149>.
- Gwekwerere, Tavengwa and Mpondi, Douglas. “Memory, Identity and Power in Contemporary Zimbabwe: movement for Democratic Change Electoral Narratives and Zimbabwe African National Union–Patriotic Front Counter-Narratives.” *Africology: the Journal of Pan-African Studies* 12, 3 (2018): 3–23.
- Hammar, Amanda, McGregor, JoAnn and Landau, Loren. “Introduction: displacing Zimbabwe: crisis and Construction in Southern Africa.” *Journal of Southern African Studies* 36, 2 (2010): 263–283. <https://doi.org/10.1080/03057070.2010.485779>.
- Karenga, Maulana. 2008. *Kawaida and Questions of Life and Struggle: african-American, Pan- African and Global Issues*. Los Angeles: University of Sankore Press.
- MacMillan, Hugh. “‘past History Has Not Been Forgotten’: the ANC/ZAPU Alliance – the Second Phase, 1979–1980.” *Journal of Southern African Studies* 43, 1 (2017): 179–193. <https://doi.org/10.1080/03057070.2017.1262639>.
- Mazarire, Gerald Chikozho. “ZANU’s External Networks, 1963–1979: an Appraisal.” *Journal of Southern African Studies* 43, 1 (2017): 83–106. <https://doi.org/10.1080/03057070.2017.1281040>.
- Mazrui, Ali. 2002. *Africa and Other Civilizations: conquest and Counter-Conquest*. Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press.
- Mhanda, Wilfred. 2011. *Dzino: memories of a Freedom Fighter*. Harare: Weaver Press.
- Momoh, Abubakar. “Does Pan-Africanism Have a Future in Africa: in Search of the Ideational Basis of Afro-Pessimism.” *African Journal of Political Science* 8, 1 (2003): 31–57.
- Mungumbe, Clinarete and Luis, Victoria. “Nationalism and Exile in an Age of Solidarity: FRELIMO–ZANU Relations in Mozambique (1975–1980).” *Journal of Southern African Studies* 43, 1 (2017): 161–178. <https://doi.org/10.1080/03057070.2017.1273537>.
- Nkrumah, Kwame. 1965. *Neo-colonialism: the Last Stage of Imperialism*. Bedford, UK: Panaf Books.
- Passemiers, Lazlo. “The Pan-Africanist Congress and the Congo Alliance, 1963–1964.” *South African Historical Journal* 70, 1 (2018): 82–107. <https://doi.org/10.1080/02582473.2017.1421257>.
- Ranger, Terrence Osborne. “Nationalist Historiography, Patriotic History and the History of the Nation: the Struggle over the past in Zimbabwe.” *Journal of Southern African Studies* 30, 2 (2004): 215–234. <https://doi.org/10.1080/0305707042000215338>.
- Thomas, Scott. 1996. *The Diplomacy of Liberation: the Foreign Relations of the African Nationalist Congress since 1960*. London: Tauris Academic Studies.
- Turok, Ben. 1987. *Africa: what Can Be Done*. London: Zed Books.
- Wa Thiong’o, Ngũgĩ. 2010. *Dreams in A Time of War: A Childhood Memoir*. New York: Pantheon Books.
- Wa Thiong’o, Ngũgĩ. 2016. *Secure the Base: making Africa Visible in the Globe*. New York: Seagull Books.
- Yousuf, Hilmi. “The OAU and the African Liberation Movement.” *Pakistan Horizon* 38, 4 (1985): 55–67.

Women in Africa and Pan-Africanism

Kathleen Sheldon

African women were active in Pan-African organizations and as individuals advocating for Pan-Africanist ideals, though they were too seldom acknowledged and too often remained anonymous. In the early years of Pan-Africanism, the references to women are scarce. But by the end of the twentieth century and into the twenty-first, women-centered organizations and projects as well as women leaders have increased their activities and gained attention. This chapter will focus on women from the continent and their work in Africa, though recognizing that it is a somewhat artificial line to exclude diaspora women, especially those who moved to Africa to promote Pan-Africanism.

This chapter presents individual Africa-born women activists, their involvement in Pan-African organizations, the development of women-centered Pan-African organizations, and the ways they were involved in promoting connections between all women of African descent on the continent and around the world. As Carole Boyce Davies explains, “Because women have been consistently erased from the history of pan-Africanism, it is important to assert from the outset that there has been a presence of active women from the very start of pan-Africanism. Many of these women explicitly indicated women’s rights positions in their work and activism.”¹

African women and Pan-Africanism in the early twentieth century

Women who entered the record for their contributions to Pan-Africanism in the early twentieth century were active in male-dominated organizations and contributed as individual advocates for women and for Pan-Africanist ideals. Some of the best-known women who were born in Africa in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries were able to travel internationally. That experience raised their awareness of racial oppression and politics and they brought those new ideas back to their African homes where they developed religious, political, and educational projects designed to improve African women’s living conditions and build networks among people of African descent. Their experiences also illuminate some of the class contradictions inherent in the Pan-African movement of that time, as the women who were able to travel and develop international networks were from relatively privileged backgrounds. They worked to end colonial oppression and gender inequality by

adopting aspects of western colonialism, and simultaneously advocated for maintaining African culture in the face of ongoing attacks on African social practices. Pan-African female leaders were known to draw on their experiences with women's institutions to push for their inclusion in newly formed political organizations. While there was wide variation across the continent, in many areas women historically had wielded important political, religious, and economic roles as the primary agricultural providers, as renowned spiritual leaders, and as organizers of women's societies.²

One of the earliest to enter the record was Adelaide Casely Hayford. Her story is known in part because she was the subject of a biography that promoted her political perspective and actions.³ Born in Sierra Leone in 1868 of mixed Fanti and English heritage, she worked to unite the Creole and African communities and played a prominent role in developing girls' education. Raised in England and educated there and in Germany, she returned to Africa as an adult in 1897. She married a Ghanaian nationalist, Joseph Ephraim Casely Hayford, and they jointly worked to bring independence to West African British colonies until she left him in 1914 and returned to Sierra Leone.

She joined Marcus Garvey's Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA), serving as president of the women's branch of the Freetown UNIA chapter. Casely Hayford advocated schooling for girls that included African culture as well as literacy and vocational training, making a speech on this topic in 1915 to the Young Women's Christian Association (YWCA). Her attempts to raise funds for a girls' school met with male opposition within the Pan-Africanist movement, so she resigned from her UNIA position and traveled to the U.S. with her niece Kathleen Easmon (1891–1924) in the early 1920s to raise funds, using her connections with African-Americans, particularly activist women such as Eslanda Robeson and Jessie Fauset. Casely Hayford sought to overturn negative images of African women often held by Americans, arguing that African women had strong positions in their own women's associations and as a result of their contributions to African societies.

She opened the Girls' Vocational and Industrial Training School in Freetown in 1926. Her focus on opening a girls' school drew from both her understanding of the parity found in many traditionally co-equal male and female associations in West Africa, and her appreciation of a nascent feminism or woman-centered perspective found in the western cultures in which she had grown up.⁴ She attended the 1927 Pan-African Congress in New York and remained connected to women in the international anti-colonial movement. The school faced ongoing budgetary problems and closed in 1940 when Casely Hayford's age combined with other obstacles to make it impossible to continue. She was made a Member of the Order of the British Empire in 1949, and passed away in 1960.⁵

Missionary activity and the African Methodist Episcopal (AME) Church were important aspects of early Pan-African activity, though they focused on individual redemption rather than political change. In 1895, a Congress on Africa was held in Atlanta under missionary sponsorship. One of the speakers was Etna Holderness, who told her story as an orphan from Liberia who was taken in by missionaries, converted to Christianity, and eventually made her way to the U.S.⁶ She had hoped to return to Africa as a missionary, but little is known of her later life.

Another woman who made important contributions to Pan-Africanism was Charlotte Maxeke (1874–1939), a leading figure in South African struggles for justice. She had the opportunity as a young woman in the early 1890s to travel to England and the United States as part of a singing group, the African Native Choir. While in the U.S., Maxeke was offered entrance to Wilberforce University in Ohio, where she earned her B.Sc. degree in 1905. While at Wilberforce, which was under the auspices of the AME Church, she met and

married a fellow South African, Rev. Marshall Maxeke. The Maxekes returned to South Africa, where they helped establish the AME Church, an important Pan-African congregation, and developed the Wilberforce Institute as an organization of higher learning for Africans. She was later president of the Women's Missionary Society of the AME Church. In 1913 Maxeke organized women's demonstrations against the government's plan to extend to women the requirement that Africans carry identity passes, and she went on to help found the Bantu Women's League, later the African National Congress Women's League. She was president of the National Council of African Women from 1937 to her death.

Mabel Dove Danquah (1905/1910–1984) was a writer and politician in Ghana, which was then called the Gold Coast. Her family came from Sierra Leone, and she attended primary and secondary school in Freetown. She went to England for further education but earned her father's anger by taking a secretarial course, as he was educating her for status, not as preparation for a career. He sent her home to Freetown, Sierra Leone, and when she was 21 she moved to Accra, Ghana, where she found work as a typist. Dove Danquah wrote letters about current events to the newspaper, and in the early 1930s she was asked to write a regular column for women for the *Times of West Africa*, which she did under the byline "Marjorie Mensah." She wrote short stories as well, publishing her first, "The Happenings of a Night," in serial form in her column in 1931. She was married in 1933 to the prominent scholar and diplomat Joseph Boakye Danquah, though the marriage ended in divorce in the 1940s. Dove Danquah supported Kwame Nkrumah's Convention People's Party by writing articles in the party publication, the *Accra Evening News*. In 1951 she was appointed as editor of the newspaper, the first African woman to hold such a position, though she was dismissed after five months when she disagreed with Nkrumah over editorial methods. Dove Danquah was the first woman elected to the Ghanaian parliament in 1954, before independence, and possibly the first woman elected to an African legislature on the continent.⁷

Constance Agatha Cummings-John (1918–2000) was born into an elite Creole (Krio) family in Sierra Leone. She was a leader in the nationalist movement in West Africa, helping found or lead several organizations.⁸ She was educated at private schools in Freetown, and at age seventeen went to England where she trained as a teacher at the University of London. She was first involved in political organizations while in London, participating in the male-dominated West African Students' Union and the League of Coloured Peoples (LCP), Pan-African groups whose members actively worked to end colonialism. LCP was known as a space where women from the African diaspora were found in leadership positions, and Cummings-John served on the executive in the early 1930s. Her experience of racism in the United States, where she attended a six-month course at Cornell University in 1936 and traveled throughout the southern states, focused her politics and expanded her links with Pan-Africanist ideas. After she returned to Sierra Leone in 1937, she worked with the radical nationalist I. T. A. Wallace-Johnson to found the West African Youth League (WAYL), which claimed over 42,000 members within a year. Cummings-John was the first woman elected to office in a colonial governing body when she was elected to the Freetown Municipal Council that same year at the age of 20, and where she served until 1945. She lived in the United States from 1945 to 1951, where she was active in two Pan-Africanist organizations, the American Council on African Affairs and the American Council on African Education. Back in Sierra Leone, Cummings-John was a teacher at the AME Girls' Vocational School. She also worked closely with women market vendors, and with them founded the Sierra Leone Women's Movement (SLWM) in 1951. Cummings-John was elected to the legislature in 1957 but did not take her seat due to internal conflicts. In 1966 she became

the mayor of Freetown, but she was forced to live in exile in England after a military coup in 1967. She briefly returned to Sierra Leone in 1974 to 1976 and worked for the SLWM but was forced to return to London as political conditions worsened.

Though some African-American women were prominent at the Pan-African Congresses, women from Africa were nearly absent from the membership and proceedings of the first five congresses, which met beginning in 1900 through 1945 and focused on gaining independence for the African colonies. They were certainly present, but both individual names and discussion of issues related to women were not part of the official records.

The Pan African Women's Organisation and other mid-twentieth century activities

After World War II, as the movement for African independence gained momentum, Kwame Nkrumah worked to hold a Pan-African meeting on the continent. In 1953 he convened a meeting in Kumasi, Ghana. At least one African woman was present, Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti, a prominent leader from Nigeria who had organized women's groups there. She was noted for speaking publicly while in Kumasi.⁹ She was a leader not only for women throughout Nigeria and an advocate of Nigerian culture, but she also had a high profile on the international scene during and after the colonial period, when she attended meetings of the Women's International Democratic Federation and the Women's International League for Peace and Freedom.¹⁰

Organizations based on the continent and dedicated to African unity were evolving as more African nations gained independence and the political focus shifted from simply working to end colonialism. The All-African Peoples' Conferences which met in the late 1950s and the early 1960s included provisions for women's committees. Delegates and leaders wrote by-laws and passed declarations that encouraged the formation of women's "coordinating committees" as subsidiary associations, along with other constituencies such as youth, trade unions, writers, and farmers.¹¹ Resolutions also called for "An African Women's Association Conference" to be organized "with a view to creating a unified organization of African women."¹²

By the 1960s women organized the All Africa Women's Conference, also known as the Conference of African Women. This organization was first discussed in Bamako, Mali, and held its first full meeting in Tanzania in 1962, with the goal of bringing together women from the newly independent nations and the liberation movements. Jeanne Martin-Cissé was the secretary-general from its founding until 1972. Other groups that joined included the Conference of Women of Africa and of African Descent, formed in Ghana with Hannah Kudjoe, and the Kenya Women's Seminar, which included Tanzanian activist Bibi Titi Mohammed. Kudjoe worked with Nkrumah organizing women in Ghana, while Bibi Titi was known for bringing women into the nationalist struggle in Tanzania.¹³

The tenth anniversary meeting was a seminar held in Dar es Salaam. A small delegation from Mozambique, which was still fighting to end Portuguese colonial rule in their country, spoke about their struggle and the importance of international support.¹⁴ After 1974 the conference was called the Pan African Women's Organisation (PAWO) and held observer status within the Organization of African Unity (OAU). PAWO continues to be active under the presidency of Assitou Koite, with their headquarters since 2008 in Pretoria, South Africa.¹⁵ African Women's Day is celebrated on July 31 to commemorate the founding in 1962 of the All African Women's Conference.

Jeanne Martin-Cissé (1926–2017) was another woman active on the international stage. Born in Kankan, Guinea, she attended school in Mali and Senegal. She settled in Senegal, where she became active with the *Rassemblement Démocratique Africain* (RDA). She worked with the *Union des Femmes du Senegal* and was secretary general of the organization in the late 1950s. She also helped form the *Union des Femmes de l'Ouest Africain* (Union of West African Women). She entered government work with the Ministry of Education and was Guinea's representative to the United Nations Committee on the Status of Women from 1963 to 1969. She was Guinea's ambassador to the U.N. from 1972 to 1976, at that time as the only woman member of the Guinean delegation. During her tenure she was elected to preside over the UN Security Council in 1972, the first African woman to serve in that position. She later moved to Dakar and then to the U.S., where she continued as an advocate for women's issues and in 2004 was a member of *L'Association Internationale des Femmes Francophones/International Association of Francophone Women*.¹⁶

Another Francophone activist was Aoua Kéita (1912–1980) from Mali. She was active in the Malian branch of the RDA. She was elected to the RDA Central Committee, and at independence she was the only woman in the party leadership. Kéita co-founded and presided over an early women's organization, the *Union des Femmes Travailleuses/Union of Women Workers*. She was the only woman elected to Mali's National Assembly in 1960, and she was named secretary-general of the *Commission Sociale des Femmes* when it was formed in 1962.¹⁷

Andrée Blouin (1921–1986) was a prominent activist who traveled to several different African nations to bring attention to women's needs just as many countries were gaining independence. She was born in the Central African Republic, daughter of a French man and Banziri woman.¹⁸ She later lived in Guinea, where she was impressed by the efforts of the anti-colonial leader and first president, Sekou Touré. In 1960 she was recruited to work with women in Leopoldville, Belgian Congo (now Kinshasa, Democratic Republic of the Congo), during the independence movement led by Patrice Lumumba, whom she served briefly as chief of protocol. After a few months' work she had brought 45,000 women into the *Mouvement Féminin de la Solidarité Africaine* (Women's Movement for African Solidarity), which was affiliated with the Lumumba-aligned *Parti Solidaire Africain* (African Solidarity Party). She was expelled from the Congo just prior to Lumumba's assassination, and settled in Paris where she continued working for social and economic justice in Africa.¹⁹ Her lasting impact is difficult to determine; she clearly encouraged political organizing and grassroots work with women whether in Guinea or Congo, but the actual organizations she helped initiate did not persist after her departure.

Although there were a few women who became well-known, many other women worked in organizational and governmental offices. Their efforts as secretaries, receptionists, and even book binders were essential to the smooth running of Pan-Africanist publications and outreach. As Jeffrey Ahlman suggests in his study of Kwame Nkrumah and Pan-Africanism, women were entering the clerical workforce where they made important contributions while facing gender-based discrimination. Women and men were expected to devote themselves to the cause of Nkrumahism without missing days of work due to their own or a child's illness. Women were considered somewhat unruly workers who turned to gossip. They were viewed with suspicion if they remained single yet if they married there were concerns about their divided loyalties. Despite the difficulties, women working in the Bureau of African Affairs "served as the administrative lifeblood of the bureau's institutional mission" to spread the word of Nkrumah's Pan-Africanism.²⁰

Smaller efforts also rose but rarely lasted, as they were often dependent on the efforts of one woman and could not be sustained over a long period. One example is *Network: A Pan-African Women's Forum*, which was published by the International Resource Network of Women of African Descent (IRNWAD) in the 1980s. The focus of the journal was on women's struggles, especially in southern Africa, and with an interest in improving connections internationally between women of African descent. The editor was American scholar Shelby Lewis, who worked in Tanzania, Uganda, and Zimbabwe in the 1980s. The articles covered topics about women in Africa and internationally, including the Caribbean and Latin America, and reported on Pan-African meetings such as the founding of IRNWAD. The journal was first published in 1988 in Harare, Zimbabwe, before moving to Clark Atlanta University in 1989; the last issue apparently appeared in 1990, and IRNWAD was likewise transitory.²¹

When the Pan African Congress was revived in the 1990s, women also formed new associations. The Pan-African Women's Liberation Organization (PAWLO) was formed in 1993, motivated by the planned Seventh Pan African Congress, which was held in Kampala, Uganda. The women held a "Pre-Congress Meeting for Women," that drew 300 participants, and whose speakers included Mozambican Graça Machel, who later worked with the UN, and who was a government minister and first lady in Mozambique, and later first lady of South Africa. Not to be confused with PAWO, PAWLO's main aim was to ensure that women's issues were integrated into the work of the Pan African movement. PAWLO welcomed Black women from all parts of the world who were concerned about gender oppression, "an acknowledgement that African women have a common struggle and that there is strength in unity." The seventh Pan African Congress was marked by a presence of women that "far exceeded that of previous congresses."²²

PAWLO initially established working groups on culture, environment, youth and children, law and human rights, political education and participation, research and documentation, education and training, health and welfare, agriculture, refugees and migrants, and science and technology. They also published a bulletin, *Afrika Mama Yetu (Our Mother Africa)*.²³ Joyce Kazembe and Zaline Makini Roy-Campbell were regional coordinators for southern Africa. Women attempted to organize national branches of PAWLO when they returned home after the congress, but it proved difficult to sustain communication among the various groups and there was little coordination at the international level. The secretariat for PAWLO continued to be based in Kampala as part of the Pan African secretariat originating from the 7th Pan African Congress, but further efforts to revitalize PAWLO were not successful.²⁴

The twenty-first century and the African Union

By the turn of the twenty-first century, women were organizing across the continent to share their ideas for improving women's situation. Many focused on the newly established African Union (AU), which was founded in 2001 and launched in 2002. Initially the draft protocol stated that "each member state should be represented by five [5] members, one of whom must be a woman," and several countries did send more than the minimum of one woman to the March 2004 inaugural meeting.

PAWO met in Kampala with the Global Pan African Movement in April 2003 for a conference focused on world peace. The AU established a department for Women, Gender and Development, and in 2017 they moved toward including PAWO as an official specialized AU Agency, with plans for a commemoration in Guinea that would include

special recognition of Jeanne Martin-Cissé, who had passed away that year.²⁵ The organization continues to develop young women leaders and pushes for gender awareness and gender components in all development projects.²⁶

A key development was the passage of the Protocol on the Rights of Women in Africa in 2003. An important element was the pro-active role taken by a number of women's organizations to ensure that the protocol would pass. Some of those involved were the African Gender Institute at the University of Cape Town, African Women's Development and Communication Network (FEMNET), Femmes Africa Solidarité (FAS), and Women and Law in Southern Africa. The African Union meeting in Maputo, Mozambique, passed a new protocol on women's rights as a supplement to the African Charter on Human and Peoples' Rights. By 2013 36 of the 54 African countries had ratified the Protocol, known as the Maputo Protocol. Despite weaknesses, especially regarding enforcement, the document was recognized as providing a ground-breaking framework for improving women's lives. The major provisions set precedent in international law regarding abortion and female genital cutting. Further sections condemned domestic violence, supported affirmative action in politics and employment, encouraged steps to reduce maternal mortality rates, and detailed measures to improve women's legal access to land.

In addition, at the inaugural meeting of the Pan-African Parliament of the AU in March 2004, Gertrude Mongella (b.1945) was elected by an overwhelming majority of sitting legislators (166 out of 202) to serve a five-year term as president of the parliament. This action was considered an important commitment to women's rights, following on the July 2003 approval of the Maputo Protocol. Mongella is a well-known Tanzanian politician who has participated in numerous international meetings concerning women's rights, peace, and development. She served in the Tanzanian parliament from 1980 to 1993 and was a leader in the United Nations international women's meetings in 1985 and 1995 (see following section).

Other women gained leadership positions in the AU on task-oriented commissions, following an official goal of having 50/50 gender-parity in the ten commissioners' positions. One of the five women in the first Council cohort was Elizabeth Ntaenga Ngatchou Tankeu (1944–2011), a politician from Cameroon. She was educated in Cameroon before going to France where she completed a degree in econometrics at the University of Paris in 1971. She was minister of planning and regional development from 1988 until 1991 and was on the executive board of the African Capacity Building Foundation before being appointed in 2003 as an AU commissioner responsible for trade and industry.

In 2012 South African politician Nkosazana Dlamini-Zuma (b.1949) was the first woman elected as chair of the AU. Her election followed months of internal debate, as the AU normally elected representatives of minor countries as its leader, and there was resistance to choosing someone from one of Africa's major nations. Before gaining that important continent-wide leadership position, she had trained as a pediatrician and was a long time African National Congress (ANC) organizer. Her activism in the South African Student Organisation (SASO) forced her exile to England, where she completed her medical degree. She headed the ANC Youth Section for Great Britain, and later chaired the ANC Regional Political Committee based in England. When she returned to South Africa in 1990, she became active in women's political activities, arguing for the inclusion of women in every delegation and conference. Dlamini-Zuma was foreign minister from 1999 to 2009 and minister of home affairs 2009 to 2012.

African women have also gathered in transnational political organizations, working on continent-wide projects related to women and girls. First ladies assembled in 2002 with

a mission to focus on women and HIV/AIDS, establishing the Organization of African First Ladies against HIV/AIDS (OAFLA). They broadened their scope and their name to Organization of African First Ladies, later amending it to the Organization of African First Ladies for Development. They meet regularly to coordinate work on HIV/AIDS, maternal and child health, the situation of adolescent girls and young women, and related issues, while also investigating poverty and advocating for empowering women. They use their semi-official position to reach out to policy makers and improve conditions for young women.²⁷

Women legislators have also met in international forums to coordinate their political work on women. The Network of Women Parliamentarians of Central Africa (Réseau de Femmes Parlementaires d'Afrique Centrale, RFPAC) includes representatives from Angola, Burundi, Cameroon, Gabon, Equatorial Guinea, Central African Republic, Democratic Republic of Congo, Republic of Congo, Rwanda, and Chad. They have met regularly since 2002 in order to discuss key issues and strategize about their legislative struggles. Once women gain legislative seats, they have used their positions to support laws on marriage and inheritance and to work for family laws and citizenship provisions that can benefit women.

The United Nations as a Pan-African feminist site

The United Nations has provided a site for international and Pan-African efforts related to African women. The UN Decade for Women was a series of international meetings on women's issues that brought many African women together across national boundaries. The first was held in Mexico City in 1975; the second in Copenhagen in 1980; the third in Nairobi in 1985; and the fourth, a follow-up to the official decade, met in Beijing in 1995. During the first decade, Annie Jiagge from Ghana helped write the Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination against Women (CEDAW). At each of the international meetings African women participated as representatives of their governments and of non-governmental organizations and argued for the inclusion of African experiences. The 1985 meeting in Nairobi was marked by the attendance of 16,000 women, with a notable presence of African women. The meeting increased the ability of African women to network across the continent, and many returned home to form activist organizations, including Action for Development (ACFODE) in Uganda and the Tanzania Media Women's Association. The platform of the "Forward Looking Strategies for the Advancement of Women" set forth at that meeting was used in many African nations to improve women's conditions. Those strategies were reworked into a Platform for Action at the Fourth World Conference on Women in Beijing, which was chaired by Gertrude Mongella.

The African Training and Research Centre for Women (ATRCW), part of the United Nations Economic Commission for Africa (UNECA), is headquartered in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia. It was established in 1975 to coordinate UN projects that focused on women, including the UNECA Women's Programme. The name was changed in 1995 to the African Centre for Women, and in 2001 to the African Centre for Gender and Development (ACGD). The center has sponsored publications, including country-specific bibliographies in the 1980s, reports on women and development, and the *ATRCW Update* (1978–1993).²⁸ Conferences on women held under their auspices include annual meetings since 1979 of the Africa Regional Coordinating Committee for the Integration of Women in Development, which formulates specific policy recommendations. In 1995 in Dakar, Senegal, 3,000 women met and developed a Plan of Action addressing such crucial issues as the impact of structural adjustment programs on women, girls' education, and maternal mortality. Further

meetings were held in 1999 and 2004 at Addis Ababa, Ethiopia; the ninth meeting convened in 2014 in Addis Ababa with a focus on agriculture and women.

One of the ACGD leaders was Josephine Ouédraogo (b.1949), a politician and activist from Burkina Faso. After her early education in Burkina Faso, she lived in Paris where her father was ambassador to France. She earned a degree in sociology in 1974 from the Université René-Descartes. She had returned to Burkina Faso but was forced into exile when President Thomas Sankara was assassinated in 1987. She was a project coordinator for the Pan-African Development Institute in Cameroon from 1989 to 1992. At ACGD, which she led beginning in 1997, Ouédraogo successfully pushed gender issues to the forefront of a variety of African governmental conferences and task forces, and introduced a new evaluation program, the African Gender Development Index.

The United Nations Development Fund for Women, commonly known as UNIFEM, was founded in 1976 following the first international meeting of the United Nations Decade for Women. They focused on economic development, human rights, and peace; specific UNIFEM projects included ending domestic violence, combatting HIV/AIDS, improving access to safe water, and numerous other endeavors. In 2010 UNIFEM became a section within a reorganized department on women, the United Nations Entity for Gender Equality and the Empowerment of Women, commonly known as UN Women. UN Women maintains regional and national offices in Africa.²⁹ In 2013 South African political activist Phumzile Mlambo-Ngcuka was named as executive director.

Another project under UN auspices focused on migration and human trafficking, with a series of meetings held beginning in 2001 in Nigeria, and the 4th Pan African Forum on Migration in 2018 meeting under UN Migration sponsorship in Djibouti with attendees including Ellen Johnson Sirleaf, former Liberian president, and Vera Songwe, executive secretary of UNECA, and all women moderators of the discussions.³⁰

Women's studies as Pan-African outreach

In addition to the overtly political work that promoted Africa-wide networking among women, African women have established independent research centers and university-based women's studies programs. One of the earliest was the Association of African Women for Research and Development, (AAWORD)/Association des Femmes Africaines pour la Recherche sur le Développement (AFARD). Following a discussion among women scholars meeting in Lusaka, Zambia, in December 1976, AAWORD/AFARD was established in 1977 by African women researchers who wanted to advance their own ideas about development and gender issues. Based in Dakar, Senegal, and under the auspices of the Council for the Development of Economic and Social Research in Africa (CODESRIA), AAWORD sponsored a regular series of conferences and published bilingual occasional papers, bibliographic materials, and a quarterly newsletter, *Echo* (beginning in 1986). The monographs have investigated reproduction, mass media, youth leadership, feminism, and development. AAWORD's written mission statement calls for building a women's movement linking human rights and development while promoting African women's contributions and developing the abilities and opportunities of African women scholars. It has also been concerned with extending networks across the continent and internationally among scholars interested in African women. It held general assemblies in 1977, 1983, and 1988 in Dakar and in 1995 in Pretoria, South Africa. Since 1990 it has maintained a documentation center that holds nearly 2,000 books and reports.

Senegalese sociologist Marie-Angélique Savané (b. 1947) was president of AAWORD for many years and also worked at the UN Research Institute for Social Development, and other UN agencies related to refugees and demography. In 1998 she took a seat as a deputy in Senegal's national assembly. She was named as chair of the African Union's self-regulating board, the African Peer Review Mechanism, in 2006, part of a board of seven "eminent persons," which also included Mozambican Graça Machel and Dorothy Njeuma of Cameroon.

Non-governmental organizations: peace-building and education

One of the main arenas for women's Pan-African activities has been related to peace-building. African women have been active in negotiations for peace and have organized continent-wide groups to work to end conflict.³¹ One of the first declarations specifically focusing on peace issues came from the Kampala Action Plan on Women and Peace in 1993. Women within the UN and the AU also advocated for women's inclusion in peace efforts. Many associations have been established, including African Women's Anti-War Coalition, African Women's Committee for Peace and Development, the Federation of African Women for Peace, and Femmes Afriques Solidarité. The African Women and Peace Support Group (AWPSG), an international organization, was formed in 1997 to document African women's involvement in peace activities.

Local groups have also formed, focusing on persistent conflicts including in the Democratic Republic of the Congo, where Liberian leader Ruth Sando Perry and others formed a lobbying group, Women as Partners for Peace in Africa (WOPPA). WOPPA promoted a negotiated peace settlement among the warring groups, arguing that women's voices should be included. Women in Rwanda, Sudan, and Sierra Leone formed local peace organizations; the Mano River Women Peace Network of Liberia was one of six organizations that was awarded the UN Human Rights Prize in 2003 for their efforts.³² That work was further recognized in 2011 when Leymah Gbowee and Ellen Johnson Sirleaf won the Nobel Prize for Peace (also shared with Tawakkol Karman of Yemen). Women's efforts have had an important source of support with the UN Security Council Resolution 1325 on Women, Peace and Security which was passed in 2000.

The Forum for African Women Educationalists (FAWE) was created in 1992 and registered in Kenya as a Pan-African non-governmental organization in 1993. Its slogan indicates its focus: "Supporting Women and Girls Acquire Education for Development." The secretariat is in Nairobi, with 33 national chapters, and members are primarily women policy-makers (male ministers of education were welcomed as associate members). FAWE sought to ensure that girls had access to school, performed well at all levels, and completed their studies. It introduced a program now functioning in several African countries, called "Speak Out," that aimed at limiting the sexual harassment of female students by publicizing the names of teachers who violated their students' rights and by educating male students about proper behavior.³³

Cultural work

Other women have been recognized for the Pan-African views found in their cultural work. Noémia de Sousa (1926–2002) was a Mozambican poet who was active as a journalist in the early years of the anti-colonial struggle from 1951 to 1964. The child of two mixed-race parents, her widely-anthologized poems celebrated Mozambican culture and history while emphasizing Black identity. She was born in Lourenço Marques (later Maputo), educated in

Brazil, and lived in Portugal for many years. Her most often cited poems address such topics as migrant workers in South Africa's gold mines ("Magaça"), a celebration of "my mother Africa" ("Black Blood"), and cries for liberation, as with these closing lines from "The Poem of João," "who can take the multitude and lock it in a cage?"³⁴

Bessie Head (1937–1986), a novelist from South Africa who lived in Botswana, has also been noted for her Pan-African interests, based on long friendships and correspondence with Robert Sobukwe, the leader of South Africa's Pan-African Congress, and with the African-American author, Alice Walker.³⁵

One early dramatist who made major contributions to African theater was Ghanaian Efua Theodora Sutherland (1924–1996). After attending college in England where she earned a B.A. in education, she returned to her home in Ghana in 1951 and in 1958 established the Ghana Experimental Theater and formed the Ghana Society of Writers. She also initiated the Pan-African Historical Theater Festival, known as PANAFEST, as a space and event for Africans to use drama to grapple with ongoing trauma that stemmed from the impact of the slave trade on African societies. Her best-known plays are *Edufa* (1967) and *Marriage of Anansewa* (1975), in which she demonstrated her contention that African theater should make use of oral traditions, in this instance turning to the folk stories involving the trickster spider Ananse.³⁶ Efua Sutherland was also connected to the Pan-African movement through her marriage to Bill Sutherland, a prominent African-American peace activist and Pan-African leader who was active in Africa and internationally.

Another Ghanaian writer who has expressed Pan-African feminist views is Ama Ata Aidoo (1942–), who has produced novels, short stories, poems, and plays.³⁷ She attended the University of Ghana at Legon and earned a fellowship that allowed her to study creative writing at Stanford University in California, returning to Ghana in 1969. Her publications include a play, *Dilemma of a Ghost*, the story collection *No Sweetness Here* (1970), and the novels, *Our Sister Killjoy* (1977) and *Changes* (1991), which won the 1992 Commonwealth Writers Prize (Africa region). She has focused on issues of cultural change and women's position in a modernizing society, presenting strong women characters in a deliberate counter-narrative to male-dominated stories. As Delia Kumavie suggests, "Aidoo expresses a vision of feminism for Africa that is both Pan-African and nationalist."³⁸

Conclusion

Others have noted the dearth of information on women, and particularly women based on the African continent, in Pan-African history. Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, regretting the near absence of women in their collection of biographies, suggested that it could "be argued that scholars have not sufficiently turned their attention to the lives and contributions of women."³⁹ By restricting Pan-Africanist women to those on the African continent, it might seem that finding information would be limited even further. However, there have been many women who were active internationally as individuals, who helped develop African and diasporic networks, who founded organizations with a multitude of connections, and who have left a record of those achievements. Their legacy is important for Pan-Africanists and for women.

Notes

- 1 Carole Boyce Davies, "Pan-Africanism, Transnational Black Feminism and the Limits of Culturalist Analyses in African Gender Discourses," *Feminist Africa* 19, special issue on Pan-Africanism and Feminism (2014): 78–93; quote on p. 78.

- 2 For more about African women's history, see Kathleen Sheldon, *African Women: Early History to the 21st Century* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2017).
- 3 Adelaide M. Cromwell, *An African Victorian Feminist: The Life and Times of Adelaide Smith Casely Hayford, 1868–1960* (London: Frank Cass, 1986).
- 4 Barbara Bair, "Pan-Africanism as Process: Adelaide Casely Hayford, Garveyism, and the Cultural Roots of Nationalism," in *Imagining Home: Race, Class, Nationalism*, ed. Sidney Lemelle and Robin Kelley (London: Verso, 1994), 121–44, and thanks to the author for facilitating my access to this article.
- 5 Rina Okonkwo, "Adelaide Casely Hayford: Crusader for Women's Rights," in *Heroes of West African Nationalism*, ed. Rina Okonkwo, 92–105 (Nigeria: Delta, 1985).
- 6 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 19; Etna Holderness, "Sketch of My Life in Africa," in *Africa and the American Negro: Addresses and Proceedings of the Congress on Africa*, ed. J. W. E. Bowe, 112–115 (Atlanta: Gammon Theological Seminary, 1896).
- 7 Naana Jane Opoku-Agyemang, "Recovering Lost Voices: The Short Stories of Mabel Dove-Danquah," in *Writing African Women: Gender, Popular Culture and Literature in West Africa*, ed. Stephanie Newell, 67–80 (London: Zed, 1997); and Helen Yitah, "'Hard-Headed and Masculine-Hearted Women': Female Subjectivity in Mabel Dove-Danquah's Fiction," *Meridians: Feminism, Race, Transnationalism* 17, 1 (2018): 133–49.
- 8 LaRay Denzer, "The Influence of Pan-Africanism in the Political Career of Constance A. Cummings-John," in *Pan-African Biography*, ed. Robert A. Hill (Los Angeles: Crossroads, 1987), 137–160.
- 9 Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 136–137.
- 10 Cheryl Johnson-Odim and Nina Emma Mba, *For Women and the Nation: Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti of Nigeria* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1997).
- 11 Colin Legum, *Pan-Africanism: A Short Political Guide* (Westport, Conn.: Greenwood), references to women in "Resolutions Adopted by the All-African Peoples' Conference, Accra, December 5–13, 1958," Appendix 22, 232; and "Charter for 'The Union of African States,' Accra, July 1, 1961," Appendix 14, 185.
- 12 Legum, *Pan-Africanism*, "Resolutions Adopted by the All-African Peoples Conference, Cairo, March 23–31, 1961," 262.
- 13 Jean Allman, "The Disappearing of Hannah Kudjoe: Nationalism, Feminism, and the Tyrannies of History," *Journal of Women's History* 21, no. 3 (2009): 13–35; and Susan Geiger, *TANU Women: Gender and Culture in the Making of Tanganyikan Nationalism, 1955–1965* (Portsmouth, NH: Heinemann, 1997).
- 14 "The 1973 All-African Women's Conference," in *The Mozambican Woman in the Revolution*, 14–16 (Richmond, Canada: Liberation Support Movement, 1974). The Mozambican attendees included future first lady, Marcelina Chissano, and women's organization leader Deolinda Guezimane.
- 15 "A Brief History of PAWO," Pan-African Women's Organization website, <https://pawowomen.org/about-us/>.
- 16 Jeanne Martin-Cissé, *La Fille du Milo* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 2009); Adi, *Pan-Africanism*, 152–154.
- 17 Aoua Kéita, *Femme d'Afrique: La Vie d'Aoua Kéita Racontée par Elle-Même* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1975); and Jane Turrittin, "Aoua Kéita and the Nascent Women's Movement in the French Soudan," *African Studies Review* 36, 1 (April 1993): 59–89.
- 18 Andrée Blouin, *My Country, Africa: Autobiography of the Black Pasionaria* (New York: Praeger, 1983).
- 19 Allison Drew, "Andrée Blouin and Pan-African Nationalism in Guinea and the Congo," in *Pan-African Biography*, ed. Robert A. Hill, 209–17 (Los Angeles: Crossroads, 1987).
- 20 Jeffrey S. Ahlman, *Living with Nkrumahism: Nation, State, and Pan-Africanism in Ghana* (Athens: Ohio University Press, 2017), quote on 160 at beginning of section on "Work and Gender in the Revolutionary Workplace," 160–175.
- 21 *Network – Réseau – Redaction: A Pan-African Women's Forum* 1, 1 (Winter 1988); 1, 2 (Fall 1988); 2, 1 (Spring 1989); 2, 2 (Fall 1989); and 2, 3 (1990); these five issues were consulted and are in the author's possession. Information on Shelby Lewis, www.walterrodneyfoundation.org/dr-shelby-f-lewis-biography/.
- 22 Makini Roy-Campbell, "Empowerment of African Women Across Geographical Boundaries: Formation of a Pan-African Women's Liberation Organisation," *Safere: Southern African Feminist Review* 1, 1 (1995): 87–89; Zaline Makini Roy-Campbell, "Pan-African Women Organising for the

- Future: The Formation of the Pan African Women's Organisation and Beyond," *African Journal of Political Science* 1 (new series), no. 1 (1996): 45–47; "PAWLO & Pan-African Women," <https://8thpanafricancongress.wordpress.com/pan-african-women/>.
- 23 The May 1994 issue seems to be the only number published.
- 24 Zaline Makini Roy-Campbell, personal communication, March 2019.
- 25 <https://au.int/en/newsevents/20170729/commemoration-pan-african-women's-day-2017>.
- 26 Their current activities can be followed on their twitter feed, @Pawowomen, and at their website, <https://pawowomen.org/>.
- 27 Information on their history and activities is found at www.oafla.org/.
- 28 Margaret Snyder and Mary Tadesse, *African Women and Development: A History, The Story of the African Training and Research Centre for Women of the United Nations Economic Commission for Africa* (London: Zed Books, 1995).
- 29 Further information can be found at their website, www.unwomen.org/en/.
- 30 Tunde Fagbohunbe, ed., *The Rape of the Innocents: Evolving an African Initiative Against Human Trafficking: Proceedings of the First Pan-African Conference on Human Trafficking* (Abuja, Nigeria: Women Trafficking and Child Labour Eradication Foundation, 2001); program for the 2018 meeting is at: www.iom.int/4th-pan-african-forum-migration.
- 31 There is a large literature on African women and peace-building; see Cheryl Hendricks, "Creating Women's Leadership for Peace and Security in the Greater Horn of Africa: The Limitations of Capacity-Building as Remedy for Gender Inequality," *Feminist Africa* 20 (2015): 43–56 (special issue on Feminism and Pan Africanism); and Shelley Anderson, "'We Wanted Peace': African Women's Initiatives for Peace," in *Seeds of New Hope: Pan-African Peace Studies for the Twenty-First Century*, ed. Matt Meyer and Elavie Ndura-Ouédraogo, 191–204 (Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 2009).
- 32 African Women and Peace Support Group, *Liberian Women Peacemakers: Fighting for the Right to Be Seen, Heard, and Counted* (Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 2004).
- 33 See www.fawe.org for information about their projects.
- 34 Patrick Chabal, "Noémia de Sousa," in *Vozes Moçambicanas: Literatura e Nacionalidade*, ed. Patrick Chabal (Lisbon: Vega, 1994), 104–25.
- 35 Keiko Kusunose, "Bessie Head and Pan-Africanism," in *Migrating Words and Worlds: Pan-Africanism Updated*, ed. E. Anthony Hurley, Renée Larrier and Joseph McLaren, 233–246 (Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 1999).
- 36 Anne V. Adams and Esi Sutherland-Addy, editors, *The Legacy of Efua Sutherland: Pan-African Cultural Activism* (Ayeibia Clarke, 2008).
- 37 Ada Uzoamaka Azodo and Gay Wilentz, eds., *Emerging Perspectives on Ama Ata Aidoo* (Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 1999).
- 38 Delia Kumavie, "Ama Ata Aidoo's Woman-Centred Pan-Africanism: A Reading of Selected Works," *Feminist Africa* 20 (July 2015): 57–68, quote on 59; and see Helen Yitah's review of the documentary film, *The Art of Ama Ata Aidoo*, in the same issue of *Feminist Africa* 20 (July 2015), 123–126.
- 39 Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora since 1787* (London: Routledge, 2003), which includes three women among the forty entries, and of those only Constance Cummings-John was based in Africa. See also Brenda I. Gill, "Pan-Africanism and Women: Projections and Speculations for the Future," in *Pan-Africanism in Modern Times: Challenges, Concerns, and Constraints*, ed. Olayiwola Abegunrin and Sabella Ogbobode Abidde, 189–203 (Lanham: Lexington Books, 2016).

Queer Pan-Africanism in contemporary Africa

Adriaan van Klinken

This chapter focuses on pan-Africanist discourses in contemporary Africa specifically in relation to the politics of sexual and gender diversity. It begins by examining the populist use of Pan-Africanist rhetoric in narratives mobilizing against lesbian, gay, bisexual, transgender and intersex (LGBTI) identities and rights. It then proceeds by discussing emerging counter-narratives employed by LGBTI activists, communities, and allies, in which Pan-Africanist thought is used to reimagine Africa from queer perspectives.¹ Finally, it examines the strategic invocation of transatlantic black memory and black traditions of thought within these Pan-Africanist queer counter-narratives and explores their political significance. Thus, this chapter foregrounds and explores how, in the words of Hakima Abbas and Amina Mama, “Pan-Africanism as theory and praxis is in constant dialectic with other African political and intellectual thought including socialism, Black consciousness, Black nationalism, African queer thought and activism, as well as in polemic counter-position with present-day manifestations of imperialism.”²

Anti-queer Pan-Africanism

In recent decades, across the African continent societies have witnessed an intense politicization of issues around homosexuality, the position of lesbian, gay, bisexual, and transgender people, and the recognition of their human rights. Former Zimbabwean President, Robert Mugabe, was one of the first African political leaders who, in the mid-1990s, initiated a high-profile public discourse against sexual minorities, after the organization Gay and Lesbians of Zimbabwe (GALZ) had registered for participation in the 1995 Zimbabwe International Book Fair, which that year was themed “Human Rights and Social Justice.” GALZ became subject of a last-minute ban from the Fair – reportedly following a directive issued by the president himself. Shortly after the event, Mugabe made his infamous statement about gay people as “worse than dogs and pigs,” adding that “what we are being persuaded to accept is sub-animal behaviour and we will never allow it here.”³ He made these comments while speaking at the national Heroes Day celebration, which commemorates those who died in the country’s liberation war. This is highly symbolic, because it appears that for Mugabe indeed homosexuality is something foreign, introduced by, if not imposed on the

country by external forces, and that resisting this pressure is a new patriotic liberation struggle. In response to international criticism of his speech, he retorted, “Let them be gay in the US, Europe and elsewhere ... [But] they shall be sad people here.”⁴ In subsequent years, Mugabe himself has continued to express strong anti-gay rhetoric, and he has been followed by politicians and other opinion leaders, such as clergy, in Zimbabwe and many other countries on the continent. This rhetoric has often been accompanied by intensified legal and political efforts to persecute people involved in same-sex relationships, and to introduce new legislation criminalizing not just same-sex activity but also the advocacy for LGBTI human rights. These dynamics have taken different forms in different countries as they are shaped by local socio-political contexts, and there certainly is nothing intrinsically “African” about these manifestations of homophobia (or anti-queer animus).⁵ However, there are commonalities in anti-queer politics in contemporary Africa, and a major one is the persistent pattern that homosexuality and, more recently, also transgender identity, are discursively constructed as “un-African.” Cameroonian anthropologist Basile Ndjio refers to this process as the “culturalization of sexuality” in postcolonial African societies, by which he means the “enduring efforts ... to construct a more racialized and autochthonized form of sexuality as well as to a novel form of biopolitics that makes sexuality a marker of racial and ethnic identity.”⁶ With particular reference to post-colonial Cameroon, Ndjio points out that “the anti-homosexual law took up the (Pan)Africanist project to create an exclusive African sexual identity that was the mirror opposite of ‘western perverse sexuality’.”⁷ A similar conceptualization of these dynamics is presented by the Ugandan law scholar, Adrian Jjuuko, when he argues that one of the major challenges for the protection of LGBTI rights in Africa is the “rise of a conservative streak of Pan-Africanism” in which sexuality is being used by political and religious leaders as a key site “to protect and preserve African values and identities and to challenge foreign dominance,” and with abuses and violence against sexual minorities being given a “cloak of legitimacy in the name of Pan-Africanism.”⁸

The consequence of this form of sexual politics is that homosexuality is framed as exogenous, and that LGBTI people are denied a claim to African identity and are excluded from the body of the nation. One example of this is the 2013 statement by the then Minister of Justice in Zambia, Wynter Kabimba, that “there is no room for gays in Zambia,” claiming that homosexuality is both “un-Zambian” and “un-Christian.” This quotation illustrates how anti-queer Pan-Africanism often expresses itself in the guise of conservative religious thought, both Christian and Islamic.⁹ Such understandings of, and attitudes towards, sexual minorities, are, in Ndjio’s words,

informed by nativist ideologies and Pan-Africanist discourses that generally construe LGBTI persons as radically ‘others’ of the Muntu – the African libidinal heterosexual subject naturally inclined to heterosexual relations. Essentialist philosophies of African self-hood have come to see homosexuality as a distinctly un-African phenomenon and a threat to the African way of life, the defence of which has become the pretext for all kinds of sexual fundamentalism and intolerance.¹⁰

Arguably, this anti-queer Pan-Africanist narrative is based on an invented notion of African authenticity: it reflects a postcolonial revival of earlier colonialist discourses about African sexuality as fundamentally heterosexual. These discourses were informed by the racist notion of Africans as primitive – so close to nature that they could not engage in what European colonizers and missionaries at the time considered “unnatural” sexual transgressions.¹¹ The painful irony is that in contemporary Africa, Pan-Africanist spokespersons have bought into

this notion and use it to resist what they perceive as current Western imperialism in the form of the “gay rights agenda.” Meanwhile these spokespersons represent a form of cultural amnesia, as they systematically ignore and deny the anthropological and historical evidence of sexual diversity in African societies in the past and the present.

Reclaiming and reimagining queer Africa

In the context of widespread populist Pan-Africanist rhetoric denying LGBTI people their citizenship, their human rights and dignity, and their African identity, African LGBTI activists and communities in recent years have developed counter-narratives in which they reclaim and reimagine a queer Africa through a progressive Pan-Africanist lens. One major example is the African LGBTI Manifesto,¹² which was released following a roundtable session of activists from across the continent, held in Nairobi in April 2010. The Manifesto, quoted here at length, opens with a strong, explicitly Pan-Africanist vision:

As Africans, we all have infinite potential. We stand for an African revolution which encompasses the demand for a re-imagination of our lives outside neo-colonial categories of identity and power. For centuries, we have faced control through structures, systems and individuals who disappear our existence as people with agency, courage, creativity, and economic and political authority.

Striking in these opening words is the self-inclusive notion of “Africans” that the writers of the manifesto adopt. The manifesto appears to deliberately inscribe itself into the tradition of Pan-Africanist thought, as it buttresses the “belief in the unity, common history and common purpose of the peoples of Africa” and highlights “the importance of the liberation and advancement of the African continent.”¹³ It is on this basis that it proceeds by referring to sexuality, careful not to single out the issue but to frame it in a comprehensive narrative of African cultural diversity, political self-determination, and socio-economic justice:

As Africans, we stand for the celebration of our complexities and we are committed to ways of being which allow for self-determination at all levels of our sexual, social, political and economic lives. The possibilities are endless. We need economic justice; we need to claim and redistribute power; we need to eradicate violence; we need to redistribute land; we need gender justice; we need environmental justice; we need erotic justice; we need racial and ethnic justice; we need rightful access to affirming and responsive institutions, services and spaces; overall we need total liberation.

Only then, having laid out a strong Pan-Africanist vision, the manifesto explicitly states its specific concern with sexuality, but again linking this to the project of “total liberation” of the African continent and its peoples:

We are specifically committed to the transformation of the politics of sexuality in our contexts. As long as African LGBTI people are oppressed, the whole of Africa is oppressed.

On the basis of this vision, the writers of the manifesto continue by committing themselves to seven demands, such as reclaiming and sharing their stories, strengthening their organizational networks, and challenging legal systems that criminalize LGBTI people.

A similar emphasis on mainstreaming sexuality in a broader project of liberation and decolonization is found in the emerging body of literature in African queer studies. For instance, Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas, in their introduction to the *Queer African Reader*, state that “at the root of queer resistance in Africa, is a carrying forward of the struggle for African liberation and self-determination.”¹⁴ They continue by explaining their use of the term queer as denoting “a political frame rather than a gender identity or sexual behaviour:”

We use queer to underscore a perspective that embraces gender and sexual plurality and seeks to transform, overhaul and revolutionise African order rather than seek to assimilate into oppressive hetero-patriarchal-capitalist frameworks.¹⁵

Importantly, the authors draw a link between liberation in the areas of gender and sexuality to the broader project of economic liberation; they present queer politics as a project concerned, not just with LGBTI identities and rights, but with the struggle against patriarchy, heteronormativity, homophobia, and neoliberal capitalism. As Ekine writes in another contribution to the volume, historically speaking “the struggle to break free from colonialism was largely a political project, which involved minimal disturbance of Western economic interests or hetero-patriarchal structures.”¹⁶ Queer resistance, then, aims to complete the project of decolonization by aiming at a comprehensive liberation of African peoples and societies from the multiple structures of domination and oppression.

The motif of reclaiming Africa from queer perspectives is central in the title of another collection in the field of African queer studies, *Reclaiming Afrika*. As Zethu Matebeni and Jabu Pereira point out in their preface to the volume, the spelling of Afrika with a k – which is common in certain Pan-Africanist traditions – is deliberate in order...

to emphasise the need to reclaim our existence and being in this continent. As sexual and gender non-conforming or queer persons, we have been alienated in Africa. We have been stripped of our belonging and our connectedness. For these reasons, we have created our own version of Afrika – a space that cuts across the rigid borders and boundaries that have for so many years made us feel disconnected and fractured.¹⁷

The language of “reclaiming Africa” reflects a sense of retrieving something that has been lost in the course of history, a past that has been hidden by historical events, and that can be recovered and used for contemporary political purposes. Such a sense can be distilled, for instance, in the talk titled “Conversations with Baba,” by the Kenyan literary writer Binyavanga Wainaina. Here, Wainaina uses an inclusive “we” to reclaim Africa as a continent that has always been characterized by diversity and has embraced it, and to present Africa – the cradle of human civilization – as an example of moral authority to the rest of the world: “We, the oldest and the most diverse continent there has been. We, where humanity came from. We, the moral reservoir of human diversity, human aid, human dignity.”¹⁸ In Wainaina’s commentary, this rich and strong tradition of diversity characterizing African societies and cultures was only interrupted by “those people who came from that time of colonization to split us apart, until our splitting apart came from our own hearts.” Thus, he suggests that the interruption came from outside – from the forces of colonialism and missionary Christianity; he further suggests that the exogenous views of moral conservatism and rigidity have been adopted and internalized by certain sections of society in postcolonial Africa. Here, Wainaina specifically refers to conservative religious actors, which he describes as “fake moral hypocritical brokers of our freedom to be diverse.” At other occasions, he has used

the term “brokers” for Pentecostal pastors who with their religious fervor, their agenda of moral reform, and their obsessions with demons have recolonized public space.¹⁹ The Kenyan queer activist Gathoni Blessol expresses a similar concern when she writes:

The religious extremists in Africa, whose kingdom of heaven has been bestowed on them because of their ‘righteousness’, are the followers of the evangelical ministries from the West in testimonies, speech and norms, sometimes even in accent and spiritual tongue. The irony is not lost ... [T]he religious madness is leading to the gross and fatal human rights violations of the African LGBTI-Q community.²⁰

Vis-à-vis such forces, Wainaina calls for a reclaiming of indigenous African moral traditions that recognize human diversity. He considers this a key step in what he calls the process of “freeing our imaginations” – or what Kenyan literary writer Ngũgĩ wa Thiong’o would call the decolonization of the mind.²¹ In his six-part video, “We Must Free Our Imaginations” (in which he explicitly identifies as a Pan-Africanist), Wainaina describes socio-political and religious homophobia in Africa as “the bankruptcy of a certain kind of imagination.” He urges his fellow Africans to engage in creative, liberating, and imaginary thinking, reclaiming the past in order to reimagine the future – a future free from oppressive modes of thought.

The queer Pan-Africanist reclaiming of an ideal (and perhaps somewhat idealized) African past involves the recovering of indigenous traditions of sexual and gender diversity. This is a key strategy in order to challenge the myth of homosexuality as something “un-African” and a Western invention, and to demonstrate, in the words of the Kenyan scholar Lyn Ossome, “the falseness of the ‘fact’ of Africans’ exclusive heterosexuality.”²² As Kenne Mwikya argues, Not only did queerness exist in Africa before colonialism but it did so in many variations that reflect the diversity of Africa’s cultures and with fluidity: weaving itself in and out of gender norms, social institutions, moral censure, and even social utility.²³ With reference to the historical evidence of same-sex practices in African cultures and societies, many activists on the continent have claimed that in fact homophobia, not homosexuality, is un-African and is imported from the West.²⁴ Recovering indigenous transgressive sexualities and gender identities is also of critical epistemological significance. According to the Ugandan sexuality scholar Stella Nyanzi, “to queer ‘Queer Africa’, one must simultaneously reclaim Africa in its bold diversities and reinsert queerness: two non-negotiable strategies that encapsulate the politics within this project.”²⁵ She goes on by arguing:

Thinking beyond the loaded westernized frame of the LGBTI acronym, queer Africa must necessarily explore and articulate local nuances of being non-heteronormative and non-gender conforming ... Cultural and indigenous understandings of gendered spirits of ancestors who may possess individuals offer socially appropriate notions of handling fluid, transient gender identities. Queer Africa must reclaim such African modes of blending, bending and breaking gender boundaries.²⁶

Thus, the adequacy of modern, originally Western conceptualizations of gender and sexuality, as reflected in the globalized discourse of LGBTI identities, and their relevance for African contexts, is called into question from queer Pan-Africanist perspectives. Particularly interesting is Nyanzi’s reference to indigenous spiritual beliefs and worldviews as allowing for queer gender and sexual practices, which interrogate Western, typically secular notions of queerness.²⁷ There is a great potential here for indigenous African queer theorizing, which so far has hardly been explored.

Like Nyanzi, also Ekine critiques what she calls “the meta-narrative of LGBT imperialism,” expressing the threefold concern that it does not adequately grasp “indigenous contemporary constructions of sexuality and gender,” “obscures the diversity and contextual specificity of queer African formations, past and present,” and is based on a problematic notion of a “shared gayness.”²⁸ The latter concern echoes earlier debates in feminist politics, with African and other postcolonial feminists questioning the notion of a “shared sisterhood” among women. Comparable to black feminism or womanism in their critique of feminism, queer Pan-Africanism then can be seen as a critique of white and Eurocentric models of LGBTI activism.

Given the criticism of LGBTI terminology as being Western, the adoption of the term “queer” – which can be argued to be a similarly loaded Westernized frame – as an alternative may come as a surprise. Yet this move appears to be informed by the insight that queer theorizing, different from the LGBTI framework with its inherent notion of fixed and stable identities, does more justice to the fluidity and ambiguity of sexual and gender performances associated with African indigenous cultures. Furthermore, as mentioned earlier, queer theory’s radical political edge and its critique of neoliberal capitalist structures and imperialist patterns of thought is embraced by queer Pan-Africanist scholars and activists. See, for instance, Ekine’s critique of a “contemporary neoliberal, global ‘LGBT’ agenda which seeks to universalize white Euro-American sexual norms and gender expressions.”²⁹ She critically points out that this agenda fails to acknowledge that Africans belonging to sexual and gender minorities are equally affected by the realities of “economic exploitation and debt dependence and a neoliberal consensus based on economic imperatives” as other people on the continent.

The review so far has focused on the ways in which queer Africa is reclaimed and reimagined in written texts. Yet LGBTI and queer activism in contemporary Africa makes use of many other creative and artistic forms. One case that is interesting in the light of our interest in queer Pan-Africanism is the Kenyan “Same Love (Remix)” music video, which was released in February 2016. Produced by the band Art Attack under the leadership of the openly gay musician and activist, George Barasa, the video was presented as “a Kenyan song about same sex rights, gay rights, LGBT struggles, gender equalities, gay struggles and civil liberties for all sexual orientations.”³⁰ The video’s lyrics and imagery present a progressive Pan-Africanist vision, which unfolds in two steps. First, the video draws critical attention to the recent politics against homosexuality across the continent. It shows a series of images of newspapers from Ghana and Uganda, whose front page headings include strong and sensationalist anti-gay messages, such as “Homos are Filthy.” It further shows a photo of Irungu Kang’ata MP, who is the leader of the anti-gay caucus in the Kenyan Parliament, and pictures of an anti-gay protest, the “Protect the Family” demonstration, which took place in July 2015 in Nairobi and was organized by a number of Christian organizations, and that featured Kang’ata as a main speaker. In the meantime, the lyrics of the song tell the story of a boy falling in love with another boy and coming out to his parents, only to be harshly rejected by them. This part of the song then concludes by stating:

Homophobia is the new African culture/Everyone’s the police, Everyone’s a court judge, mob law, street justice/Kill ‘em when you see ‘em/Blame it on the West, never blame it on love, it’s un-African to try and show a brother some love.

In the next part of the song, the lyrics specifically refer to Uganda and Nigeria, the two countries that in 2015 became internationally known for passing new anti-homosexuality legislation, but then it calls upon Africa as a whole, saying:

Uganda stand strong, Nigeria, Africa, it's time for new laws, not time for new wars/We come from the same God, cut from the same cord, share the same pain and share the same skin.

A positive Pan-Africanist vision is presented here, emphasizing the unity and common history of African peoples, and underlining a sense of solidarity. The basis for this vision is a religious one: the idea of African peoples being created by God. This echoes an important tradition of religiously (mostly Christian) inspired Pan-Africanist thought, centering on the belief “that Africa’s destiny is God given,” or in the words of Marcus Garvey: “God Almighty created us all to be free.”³¹ Where originally, this religious notion allowed for resisting racial discrimination and overcoming the inferiority of people of African descent vis-à-vis white superiority, the *Same Love* video uses it to resist sexual discrimination and to overcome divisions that exist among Africans about the question who counts as truly African, as well as who counts as truly human.

Black memory and black religious thought

Some recent examples of creative African queer activism not only demonstrate a Pan-Africanist vision, but also an explicit engagement with black memory and history. The “Same Love” video is a good example here. It opens with two images: first, of the rainbow flag, as an international symbol of gay and lesbian pride, and second, of the South African flag. Adopted after the end of apartheid in 1994, the latter flag came to symbolize the “new South Africa,” popularly referred to as a “rainbow nation.” In the video, the South African flag reminds the spectator of an African “success story” in achieving liberation from oppression, constitutionally guaranteeing equality of all citizens regardless of race, gender, and sexual orientation. Although the reputation of post-apartheid South Africa as a success story of diversity and equality has been called into question in recent years, “Same Love” illustrates that this narrative continues to appeal to queer communities elsewhere on the continent. Apparently, the observation of Ngũgĩ wa Thiong’o, that “South Africa [is] an integral part of the black self-imagination” and that the “liberation of South Africa was key to the social liberation of the continent,” also applies to the African queer imagination and to the struggle for queer liberation on the continent.³²

While the South African flag appears on the screen, the vocals in “Same Love” recite the opening statement: “This song goes out to the New Slaves, the New Blacks, the New Jews, the New Minorities for whom we need a civil rights movement, maybe a sex rights movement. Especially in Africa. Everywhere.” These words put the experience of same-sex-loving people in Africa in a longer history of racial and ethnic oppression and persecution. The reference to Jews may be read as suggesting that a “queer holocaust” is taking place in Africa,³³ but it may also be seen as invoking the longstanding trope of identification of black slaves in the Americas with the suffering of the Jews and their liberation from slavery as narrated in the Hebrew Bible.³⁴ The opening statement suggests that there is continuity between the civil rights movements in the US and the contemporary LGBTI rights movement in Africa. This continuity is acknowledged again later in the video, when images of prominent African queer individuals – namely, Binyavanga Wainaina and “Same Love” producer George Barasa, both from Kenya; Ugandan gay and lesbian rights activist Kasha Jacqueline Nabagesera, and the legendary South African bisexual singer Brenda Nokuzola Fassie (1964–2004) – appear on the screen, while the vocals state that “Luther’s spirit lives on.” The suggestion is that the spirit of the African American civil rights movement leader

Martin Luther King Jr. lives on in those Africans resisting homophobia and campaigning for the human rights of sexual minorities today. Among American activists it is more common to describe the oppression of LGBTI people as “similar in nature although not in history to that of African Americans,” for instance through the use of “metaphors of chains and enslavement.”³⁵ The use of this trope in a Kenyan gay music video illustrates Ngũgĩ’s conceptualization of Pan-Africanist creative imagination as a “remembering practice,” with black memory as a “link between the past and the present, between space and time, and the base of our dreams.”³⁶ It also allows the producers of the video to claim a moral high ground, implicitly appropriating King’s prophetic dream of racial liberation in the US, and applying it to the struggle for queer freedom in Africa.

Binyavanga Wainaina has also invoked the name of Martin Luther King, and of African American literary writer James Baldwin, as part of his queer Pan-Africanist imagination. Since his coming out as gay in January 2014, Wainaina has actively used Twitter and other social media to denounce homophobia in Africa, and to claim African queer visibility. In several tweets in February–March 2014, he referred to Baldwin as a source of inspiration, recognizing him as “black, African, ours,” as a “gay icon of freedom,” and canonizing him as a writer of “new scriptures.”³⁷ While commenting on the anti-homosexuality bill in Uganda, he further stated that the pastor of former U.S. president George W. Bush “has had more influence on the imagination of Africans than Martin Luther King and James Baldwin.”³⁸ Elaborating on this, in a 2015 Facebook post Wainaina invoked the tradition of progressive black religious thought, explicitly referring to “the Jesus of James Baldwin and Martin Luther King” which, he critically observes, is “a dead man in Africa.”³⁹ He uses the notion of Jesus as a liberating figure, who is in solidarity with the marginalized in society and sides with them in their struggle, and on that basis he criticizes Christian churches in Africa for maintaining structures of oppression and exclusion, specifically on the basis of sexual orientation.

Throughout his literary oeuvre, James Baldwin has wrestled with his religious upbringing in black holiness traditions and its conflict with his homosexual orientation. Although Baldwin reached the point that he lost faith in organized Christianity, and possibly also in God, he was inspired by black liberation theology, and by the radical message of love and inclusion preached by Jesus.⁴⁰ Indeed, Baldwin’s work has recently been engaged in several black queer intellectual projects.⁴¹ Claiming the legacy of Martin Luther King in support of LGBTI rights might be a more contested move. In the United States both those who defend and those who oppose LGBTI rights have claimed that King is on their side, and ironically, these two camps have received the support of King’s widow and his daughter respectively.⁴² This controversy notwithstanding, for Wainaina and the producers of the *Same Love* video, King’s prophetic dream and Baldwin’s creative imagination allow for the development of a progressive, black, Pan-African, and Christian counter-narrative that affirms sexual diversity, human dignity, solidarity, and radical love. Likewise, the legendary Archbishop Emeritus, Desmond Tutu, from South Africa, has claimed that as much as King inspired him in his fight against apartheid, “the life of Dr. King beckons me to shout for love and justice from the mountaintop, especially in the struggle for gay rights.”⁴³ The invocation of progressive traditions of black religious thought is particularly significant in the light of the role of Christian institutions and leaders in the politicization of homosexuality on the continent. Popular African Christian discourses denounce homosexuality on the basis that it is both “un-African” and “un-Christian,” which can possibly be interrogated by progressive black Pan-African Christian counter-narratives. At least one organization is actively working to promote such a narrative. Called The Fellowship of Affirming Ministries (TFAM), it was originally established to promote “a theology of radical

inclusivity” in the so-called “black church,” that is, in African American Christian circles.⁴⁴ Since the year 2009, TFAM has developed activities in several African countries, such as Kenya, Uganda, and Rwanda. It builds partnerships with local Christian clergy, supports faith-based LGBTI advocacy, and establishes LGBTI affirming Christian communities, inspired by an explicitly Pan-Africanist vision:

The Fellowship Global is positioned to be a catalyst for a pan-African faith movement, connecting the radically inclusive Christian movement led by African Americans and our allies to communities in Africa and throughout the diaspora ... As heirs of the civil rights movement, African spirituality, Christian traditions, and prophetic witness we have a vision for a radically inclusive revival to usher in a new era of social justice.⁴⁵

It is particularly interesting how TFAM frames its work in Africa explicitly in terms of countering the role of conservative white American evangelical Christians in fueling homophobia in Africa. Thus, in this framing, Africa is the new battle ground for the longstanding culture wars between American conservatives and progressives, but with an explicitly racial dimension.⁴⁶ TFAM, as a black Christian organization, seeks to resist the “spiritual colonization” of Africa by white evangelicals with a conservative theological, and a neoliberal capitalist economic agenda.⁴⁷

Conclusion

Queer Pan-Africanism is an emerging discourse among activists, artists, and thinkers concerned with sexual and gender diversity on the continent. It presents an intersectional approach, foregrounding the critical ways in which the politics of sexuality and gender in contemporary Africa are shaped by the histories of colonialism and racism, and by present realities of neocolonialism and neoliberal capitalism. Taking part of its inspiration from black memory and black religious-political thought, queer Pan-Africanism offers an alternative to Eurocentric models of LGBTI activism, and it frames queer liberation as part of a broader agenda of decolonization and African liberation. The recent emergence of queer Pan-Africanism demonstrates the ongoing salience and significance of Pan-Africanist thought for contemporary socio-political projects on the continent, such as the project of African queer liberation. Indeed, it affirms Hakim Adi’s argument that “Pan-Africanism has been not so much a dream, or simply a vision, but a many-faceted approach designed to address common problems by Africa and Africans.”⁴⁸ Queer Pan-Africanism addresses the problem of the contestation over sexuality as a defining aspect of African authenticity – a contestation that has emerged as a result of colonial and post-colonial modernity, and of globalizing narratives of sexuality. Resisting anti-queer Pan-Africanist narratives that proclaim a heteronormative notion of African identity, queer Pan-Africanism reclaims an African past characterized by sexual diversity and gender fluidity, and imagines Africa’s future as one of liberation and freedom from (neo)colonialist and heteropatriarchal structures and modes of thought.

Notes

- 1 In this chapter, I use both the acronym LGBTI (lesbian, gay, bisexual, transgender, and intersex) and the term queer. In some cases, both terms are used interchangeably, as is common in part of the literature. However, I also reconstruct an emerging African queer perspective that, at times, is quite critical of established narratives of LGBTI identities and rights.

- 2 Hakima Abbas and Amina Mama, "Editorial: Feminism and Pan-Africanism," *Feminist Africa*, no. 19 (2014): 6.
- 3 Chris Dunton and Mai Palmberg, *Human Rights and Homosexuality in Southern Africa*, 2nd ed. (Uppsala: Nordiska Afrika Institutet, 1996), 12–13.
- 4 Ibid., 13.
- 5 Ryan R. Thoreson, "Troubling the Waters of a 'Wave of Homophobia': Political Economies of Anti-Queer Animus in Sub-Saharan Africa," *Sexualities* 17, no. 1–2 (February 5, 2014): 23–42.
- 6 Basile Ndjio, "The Nation and Its Undesirable Subjects: Homosexuality, Citizenship and the Gay 'Other' in Cameroon," in *The Culturalization of Citizenship: Belonging and Polarization in a Globalizing World*, ed. Jan Willem Duyvendak, Peter Geschiere, and Evelien Tonkens (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2016), 115.
- 7 Ibid., 118–19.
- 8 Adrian Jjuuko, "The Protection and Promotion of LGBTI Rights in the African Regional Human Rights System: Opportunities and Challenges," in *Protecting the Human Rights of Sexual Minorities in Contemporary Africa*, ed. Sylvie Namwasa and Adrian Jjuuko (Pretoria: Pretoria University Law Press, 2017), 241.
- 9 Adriaan van Klinken, "Homosexuality, Politics and Pentecostal Nationalism in Zambia," *Studies in World Christianity* 20, no. 3 (2014): 259–81; Hassan J. Ndzovu, "Un-Natural, Un-African and Un-Islamic: The Three Pronged Unslaught Undermining Homosexual Freedom in Kenya," in *Public Religion and the Politics of Homosexuality in Africa*, ed. Adriaan van Klinken and Ezra Chitando (Abingdon and New York: Routledge, 2016), 78–91.
- 10 Ndjio, "The Nation and Its Undesirable Subjects: Homosexuality, Citizenship and the Gay 'Other' in Cameroon," 133.
- 11 Stephen O. Murray and William Roscoe, "Preface: All Very Confusing," in *Boy-Wives and Female Husbands: Studies in African Homosexualities*, ed. Stephen O. Murray and William Roscoe (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1998), xi.
- 12 Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas, eds., "African LGBTI Manifesto," in *Queer African Reader* (Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013), 52–53.
- 13 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 2.
- 14 Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas, "Introduction," in *Queer African Reader*, ed. Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas (Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013), 3.
- 15 Introduction, *Queer African Reader*, p. 3.
- 16 Sokari Ekine, "Contesting Narratives of Queer Africa," in *Queer African Reader*, ed. Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas (Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013), 81.
- 17 Zethu Matebeni, ed., *Reclaiming Afrikan: Queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities* (Cape Town: Modjaji Books, 2014), 7.
- 18 Binyavanga Wainaina, "Conversations with Baba", TEDxEuston Talk 2015, www.youtube.com/watch?v=z5uAoBu9Epg&t=605s.
- 19 See part 2 of *We Must Free Our Imaginations*.
- 20 Gathoni Blessol, "LGBTI-Queer Struggles like Other Struggles in Africa," in *Queer African Reader*, ed. Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas (Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013), 221, 223.
- 21 Ngũgĩ wa Thiong'o, *Decolonising the Mind: The Politics of Language in African Literature* (London: Heinemann, 1986).
- 22 Lyn Ossome, "Postcolonial Discourses of Queer Activism and Class in Africa," in *Queer African Reader* (Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013), 34. See also Blessol, "LGBTI-Queer Struggles like Other Struggles in Africa," 224.
- 23 Kenne Mwikya, "Unnatural and Un-African: Contesting Queer-Phobia by Africa's Political Leadership," *Feminist Africa*, no. 19 (2014): 100.
- 24 Ashley Currier, *Politicizing Sex in Contemporary Africa: Homophobia in Malawi* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019), 32.
- 25 Stella Nyanzi, "Queering Queer Africa," in *Reclaiming Afrikan: Queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities*, ed. Zethu Matebeni (Cape Town: Modjaji Books, 2014), 65.
- 26 Ibid., 67.
- 27 E.g. see Adriaan van Klinken and Kwame Edwin Otu, "Ancestors, Embodiment and Sexual Desire: Wild Religion and the Body in the Story of a South African Lesbian Sangoma," *Body and Religion* 1, no. 1 (2017): 70–87.
- 28 Ekine, "Contesting Narratives of Queer Africa," 78, 85.

- 29 Ibid., 78.
- 30 Art Attack, Same Love (Remix), YouTube, February 15, 2016, www.youtube.com/watch?v=8EataOQvPII.
- 31 Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History*, 14; Marcus Garvey, "Purpose of Creation." In *The Philosophy and Opinions of Marcus Garvey: Africa for the Africans*, compiled by Amy Jacques (London: Routledge, 1967), 37.
- 32 Ngũgĩ wa Thiong'o, *Re-Membering Africa* (Nairobi: East African Educational Publishers, 2009), 77, 80.
- 33 Matthew Waites, "Genocide and Global Queer Politics," *Journal of Genocide Research* 20, no. 1 (2018), 44–67.
- 34 Clarence E. Hardy III, *James Baldwin's God: Sex, Hope, and Crisis in Black Holiness Culture* (Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 2003), 47.
- 35 Melissa M. Wilcox, *Coming out in Christianity: Religion, Identity, and Community* (Bloomington and Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2003), 85.
- 36 Thiongo, *Re-Membering Africa*, 28.
- 37 Binyavanga Wainaina (@BinyavangaW), Twitter, March 9 and 26; February 7, 2014.
- 38 Binyavanga Wainaina (@BinyavangaW), Twitter, January 24, 2014, 3:55 p.m.
- 39 Binyavanga Wainaina, "The Jesus of James Baldwin and Martin Luther King," Facebook, May 4, 2015, www.facebook.com/binyavanga.wainaina/posts/10152746795847343.
- 40 Hardy III, *James Baldwin's God: Sex, Hope, and Crisis in Black Holiness Culture*, 12.
- 41 Matt Brim, *James Baldwin and the Queer Imagination* (Ann Harbor: University of Michigan Press 2014); El Kornegay, Jr., *A Queering of Black Theology: James Baldwin's Blues Project and Gospel Prose* (New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2013).
- 42 Michael G. Long, *Martin Luther King Jr., Homosexuality, and the Early Gay Rights Movement: Keeping the Dream Straight?* (New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2012).
- 43 Desmond Tutu, "Afterword," in *Martin Luther King Jr., Homosexuality, and the Early Gay Rights Movement: Keeping the Dream Straight?* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), 149.
- 44 Ellen Lewin, *Filled with the Spirit: Sexuality, Gender, and Radical Inclusivity in a Black Pentecostal Church Coalition* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2018).
- 45 <https://www.radicallyinclusive.org/global>
- 46 Adriaan van Klinken, "Culture Wars, Race, and Sexuality: A Nascent Pan-African LGBT-Affirming Christian Movement and the Future of Christianity," *Journal of Africana Religions* 5, no. 2 (2017): 217–38.
- 47 Fellowship Global, "Black Pastors Launch African Tour to Counteract Rick Warren's Anti-Gay Movement," Believe Out Loud, April 7, 2015, www.believeoutloud.com/latest/black-pastors-launch-african-tour-counteract-rick-warren%E2%80%99s-anti-gay-movement.
- 48 Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History*, 224.

References

- Abbas, Hakima and Amina, Mama. "Editorial: feminism and Pan-Africanism." *Feminist Africa*, 19 (2014): 1–6.
- Adi, Hakim. *Pan-Africanism: A History*. London: Bloomsbury, 2018.
- Blessol, Gathoni. "Lgbti-queer Struggles like Other Struggles in Africa." In *Queer African Reader*, edited by Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas, 220–228. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013.
- Brim, Matt. *James Baldwin and the Queer Imagination*. Ann Harbor: University of Michigan Press, 2014.
- Currier, Ashley. *Politicizing Sex in Contemporary Africa: homophobia in Malawi*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019.
- Dunton, Chris and Palmberg, Mai. *Human Rights and Homosexuality in Southern Africa*. 2nd ed. Uppsala: Nordiska Afrika Institutet, 1996.
- Ekine, Sokari. "Contesting Narratives of Queer Africa." In *Queer African Reader*, edited by Sokari Ekine and Hakima Abbas, 78–91. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013.
- Ekine, Sokari and Abbas, Hakima, edited by. "African LGBTI Manifesto." In *Queer African Reader*, 52–53. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013.
- Ekine, Sokari, Ekine, Sokari and Abbas, Hakima. "Introduction." In *Queer African Reader*, 1–5. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013.

- Garvey, Marcus. "Purpose of Creation." In *The Philosophy and Opinions of Marcus Garvey: africa for the Africans*, compiled by Amy Jacques Garvey, 37. London: Routledge, 1967.
- Hardy III, Clarence E. *James Baldwin's God: sex, Hope, and Crisis in Black Holiness Culture*. Knoxville: University of Tennessee Press, 2003.
- Jjuuko, Adrian. "The Protection and Promotion of Lgbti Rights in the African Regional Human Rights System: opportunities and Challenges." In *Protecting the Human Rights of Sexual Minorities in Contemporary Africa*, edited by Sylvie Namwasa and Adrian Jjuuko, 260–300. Pretoria: Pretoria University Law Press, 2017.
- Kornegay, Jr., El. *A Queering of Black Theology: james Baldwin's Blues Project and Gospel Prose*. New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2013.
- Lewin, Ellen. *Filled with the Spirit: sexuality, Gender, and Radical Inclusivity in a Black Pentecostal Church Coalition*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2018.
- Long, Michael G. *Martin Luther King Jr., Homosexuality, and the Early Gay Rights Movement: keeping the Dream Straight?*. New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2012.
- Matebeni, Zethu, ed. *Reclaiming Afrikan: queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities*. Cape Town: Modjaji Books, 2014.
- Murray, Stephen O. and Roscoe, William. "Preface: all Very Confusing." In *Boy-Wives and Female Husbands: studies in African Homosexualities*, edited by Stephen O. Murray and William Roscoe, xi–xxii. New York: St. Martin's Press, 1998.
- Mwikya, Kenne. "Unnatural and Un-African: contesting Queer-Phobia by Africa's Political Leadership." *Feminist Africa*, 19 (2014): 98–105.
- Ndjio, Basile. "The Nation and Its Undesirable Subjects: homosexuality, Citizenship and the Gay 'Other' in Cameroon." In *The Culturalization of Citizenship: belonging and Polarization in a Globalizing World*, edited by Jan Willem Duyvendak, Peter Geschiere, and Evelien Tonkens, 115–136. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2016.
- Ndzovu, Hassan J. "Un-natural, Un-African and Un-Islamic: the Three Pronged Unslaught Undermining Homosexual Freedom in Kenya." In *Public Religion and the Politics of Homosexuality in Africa*, edited by Adriaan van Klinken and Ezra Chitando, 78–91. Abingdon and New York: Routledge, 2016.
- Nyanzi, Stella. "Queering Queer Africa." In *Reclaiming Afrikan: queer Perspectives on Sexual and Gender Identities*, edited by Zethu Matebeni, 61–66. Cape Town: Modjaji Books, 2014.
- Ossome, Lyn. "Postcolonial Discourses of Queer Activism and Class in Africa." In *Queer African Reader*, edited by Sokari Ekiné and Hakima Abbas, 32–47. Dakar, Nairobi and Oxford: Pambazuka Press, 2013.
- Thiong'o, Ngũgĩ wa. *Decolonising the Mind: the Politics of Language in African Literature*. London: Heinemann, 1986.
- Thiong'o, Ngũgĩ wa. *Re-Membering Africa*. Nairobi: East African Educational Publishers, 2009.
- Thoreson, Ryan R. "Troubling the Waters of a 'Wave of Homophobia': political Economies of Anti-Queer Animus in Sub-Saharan Africa." *Sexualities* 17, 1–2 (February 5, 2014): 23–42.
- Tutu, Desmond. "Afterword." In *Martin Luther King Jr., Homosexuality, and the Early Gay Rights Movement: keeping the Dream Straight?* 149–150. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012.
- van Klinken, Adriaan. "Homosexuality, Politics and Pentecostal Nationalism in Zambia." *Studies in World Christianity* 20, 3 (2014): 259–281.
- van Klinken, Adriaan. "Culture Wars, Race, and Sexuality: A Nascent Pan-African LGBT-Affirming Christian Movement and the Future of Christianity." *Journal of Africana Religions* 5, 2 (2017): 217–238.
- van Klinken, Adriaan and Otu, Kwame Edwin. "Ancestors, Embodiment and Sexual Desire : wild Religion and the Body in the Story of a South African Lesbian Sangoma." *Body and Religion* 1, 1 (2017): 70–87.
- Waites, Matthew. "Genocide and Global Queer Politics." *Journal of Genocide Research* 20, 1 (2018): 44–67.
- Wilcox, Melissa M. *Coming Out in Christianity: religion, Identity, and Community*. Bloomington and Indianapolis: Indiana University Press, 2003.

African social movements

Franco Barchiesi

Introduction: on the applicability of the “social movement” concept to African contentious politics

The rise, in the Western academia of the second half of the twentieth century, of “social movements” as a distinct object of disciplinary expertise has largely ignored or side-stepped the politics of contention and conflict in colonial and postcolonial Africa. The continent has for long been marginalized or excluded from the programs, journals, associations, conferences, or textbooks that over the past six decades have established “social movement studies” as a field. Popular protests in the first two decades of the twenty-first century—such as the “Arab Spring” ignited in Tunisia and Egypt in 2011, “service delivery” struggles in South Africa, or West African mobilizations over the “quality of life”—have started to be reflected in the “case studies” sections of prominent introductory works.¹ Yet, African thought and practices still occupy a precarious and evanescent place in theorizations of social movements and conflicts aspiring to a global reach. At the same time, “social movements” do not figure prominently among the core concerns and priorities of African Studies, especially as far as historiography or cultural theory are concerned.²

Even attempts at providing comprehensive scholarly overviews of African social movements have been few and far between, reflecting the uneasy discrepancy between social movement studies as a field aiming at conceptual and methodological coherence and the exceeding complexity of African contentious politics. In the mid-1990s, a pioneering collection was edited by Mahmood Mamdani and Ernest Wamba-dia-Wamba,³ followed, twenty-four years later, by an anthology gathered by Ellis and van Kessel.⁴ The introduction to this latter work reflects on the possible reasons for the difficulty of locating Africa within social movement studies. The editors emphasized that, as a concept, “social movements” are mostly defined by a concern, prevalent in European or North American social sciences, with departing from popular grievances and the assumed irrationality of “the crowd”—key problems in the social history of the onset of capitalism and the nation-state—and centering, instead, on movements’ structures and strategies, deliberate significations, and the opportunities provided by the political system.⁵ Such conceptual coordinates made African conflicts legible to Western scholars applying social movement theory to the “pro-democracy” struggles of the early 1990s. Not only did such analyses evaluate African struggles in relation to Western notions of “social movement,” but also assumed “civil society” to be their obvious

arena. Theoretical differences verged, therefore, on the meaning of civil society itself. Liberals understood it as a realm of associational life claiming autonomy and accountability from the state, while left critics saw it as a terrain of contestation over cultural hegemony, social policies, and political allegiances. Ellis and van Kessel lamented that such interpretative grids—narrowly focused on transparent motivations and framing, as well as a normative opposition between “movement” and “crowd”—relegated much of African socio-political contestation, even within the mobilizations of the 1990s, to illegibility and invisibility, when not social pathology. Especially problematic was whether “social movement” as a concept could account for non-democratic features of “pro-democracy” movements, their ambivalent relations and connections with the very authoritarian states they aimed to transform, and their articulation with global actors and agendas (from NGOs to international financial institutions). Most importantly, such movements appeared to be grounded not so much in specific organizational structures and explicit claims, but in broad and diffuse social networks often inspired by ethnic or religious identifications, which complicated notions of a “secular” modernity that, in mainstream scholarship, made “new social movements” the outlets for “post-materialist” demands over lifestyle and recognition, beyond the economic grievances that had animated older movements, like labor.⁶ The very distinction between material and immaterial claims seemed to disappear in African struggles where religious or ethnic solidarity often operates as a vital precondition to seize or reclaim access to basic necessities as well as protection against state violence.

African scholars, on the other hand, have questioned the applicability of “social movement studies” not just as a disciplinary label, but also as a concept implicated in a certain European and American epistemic imperialism of colonial derivation. Mamadou Diouf deprecated the “mystique of social movements” informing scholars’ hopes for a post-authoritarian liberal democracy as well as expectations for a “second independence” among many African analysts.⁷ Diouf referred to the extensive work conducted by Algerian political scientist, Ali el-Kenz, who—in the context of his country’s bloody civil war and rising Islamist opposition in the mid-1990s—emphasized a profound ambiguity in African collective mobilizations, which for him required challenging the impoverished “sociological imagination” of social movement theory. For el-Kenz, social movement studies were integral to the export to the (post-)colony of a “‘cold science’ of the North,”⁸ of dubious relevance in theorizing African conflicts. To understand shifts and overlaps in collective identities—from socio-economic demands to opposition against authoritarian bureaucracies and confrontation along the axes of “the polymorphous spaces and quicksands of religion, of values and behaviours”⁹—el-Kenz invoked a diachronic approach focused on the historicity and long duration of specific social, economic, and cultural dynamics, instead of focusing exclusively on the present tense of institutional crisis and reform.

The need to conceptualize African conflicts and mobilizations through their constitutive ambiguity also informed Mahmood Mamdani’s proposed differentiation between “social movements,” “popular movements,” and “democratic movements.”¹⁰ At stake here is more than just a more capacious concept of “social movement,” adequate to grasp African complexities and specificities. African critics have in fact questioned the very imposition on the continent of periodizations reflecting European dilemmas, chiefly the need to categorize a break between colonialism and post-colonial independence, which eludes the linkages between anticolonial struggles and contemporary mobilizations. Social movement theory’s obsessive emphasis on the legibility and transparency of ideologies, identifiable activists or cadres, material or symbolic resources, and narratives that “frame” issues, claims, or identities

is equally problematic. For Achille Mbembe, “the extraordinary poverty of the political science and economics literature”¹¹ of Euro-American derivation—of which he specifically targeted notions of “agency,” “resistance,” “negotiation,” and discursive “invention”—follows from racial representations, which, in Hegel’s footsteps, assuaged the anxiety of Western thought toward Africa’s opacity and darkness. By being posited as universal standards of scholarly evaluation, ideas of “social movement” and “civil society” result in reading Africa mostly as an aberrant deviation, reflecting—Mbembe continues—a long-standing, heavily racialized identification of the continent with the very ideas of “absence,” “lack,” “non-being,” and endless stagnation without history.

Mbembe’s critique allows for a theorization of Blackness and race as structural—rather than biological, cultural, or ideological—factors determining the positioning of Africa in global relations of domination. African studies—and, by extension, analyses of African contentious politics—have generally neglected the structural salience of race in explaining oppression, endurance, and resistance in the colonial and post-independence contexts. Historian Jemima Pierre writes that African and African diaspora studies have failed to “fully appreciate the sociohistorical reality of Black identity formation on the African continent and its articulations with global notions of Blackness.”¹² No surprise, then, that a recent collection introducing key concepts for a critical study of Africa¹³ does not contain chapters on either “race” or “Blackness.” Yet, Pierre continues, even in countries, like Ghana, “with no clear-cut history of de jure apartheid or White-settler politics and ultimately no overt anti-Black racism,”¹⁴ Blackness is an abjection, upholding whiteness as a condition of normality and virtue, for example through the ubiquitous commercialization of skin-bleaching cosmetics. Denise Ferreira da Silva has proposed a way for advancing—in structural rather than identity terms—the “articulation” between Africa and global Blackness Pierre advocates.¹⁵ Da Silva’s concept of “raciality” defines the deployment of race as a “strategy of power”—underpinned by modalities of Western knowledge claiming scientific objectivity—that subsumes Africanness into Blackness through violent “engulfment” by *globally* anti-Black dynamics of domination that transcend Africa itself, spanning the long duration marked by enslavement, colonialism, neocolonialism, neoliberal structural adjustment, and “color-blind” multicultural liberal democracy. Da Silva’s nexus of racial knowledge and enslavist, colonial, and genocidal anti-Black violence emphasizes both the positing of Africa as an object of comparison—whereby, as Hegel had it, universal human civilization can only exist in radical contradistinction from Blackness-as-Africa—and its structural logic as paradigmatically centered not on capitalism and class, but race and anti-Blackness. Mbembe’s insight that Western socio-scientific knowledge has a tendency of holding Africa as a pathological term of comparison resonates, then, with global Black theorizing on the mutually reinforced relations between anti-Blackness, the optic of race, and academic knowledge. Frantz Fanon focused on “comparison” as the putatively objective yet inherently dehumanizing modality of positioning Black being in an anti-Black world.¹⁶

The work of theorists advocating an analytic of global Blackness for the study of Africa carries two important consequences for the purpose of providing a critical introduction to African social movements. First, the very category “social movement” is implicated, through its putative universality, in epistemic modalities assuming that only what is comparatively legible and translatable in the terms of Western academic protocols “counts” as a legitimate object of knowledge. Second, that very assumptive logic is a reflection of racial power and domination to the extent it casts Africa as a “problem” to be deciphered and translated with the tools of Western social science, rather than the point of enunciation of a Black, Pan-African, or anticolonial critique “rewriting knowledge”¹⁷ and demanding

a radical questioning of social science paradigms. It is instructive that such questioning is now demanded precisely by a Pan-African student movement—"Rhodes Must Fall,"¹⁸ starting in South Africa and then expanding to Europe and North America—which targets both racial violence and the way it informs colonial frameworks of academic knowledge. It is, perhaps, a vindication of Sylvia Wynter's call for "knowledge of the streets" to disrupt the institutionalization of the classroom.¹⁹ It is also to be noted that such disruption—which inevitably affects social movement *theory* in ways that it neither anticipates nor, perhaps, welcomes—comes from the *practice* of globally Black mobilizations. "Practice" is the term Saidiya Hartman²⁰ preferred to "agency," "contestation," and "resistance." Hartman regards such concepts as inadequate and potentially harmful ways of conceptualizing Black survival, sociality, and culture as the objectified targets of racial domination and generalized sexual violation in the transatlantic context defined by the Middle Passage, plantation slavery, and a "travestied" abolition that reinstated Black captivity in the Americas while providing arguments for the European colonization of Africa. For Hartman, "practice" is a notion more appropriate to theorizing Black social life amid the suppression of subjective autonomy, constant exposure to gratuitous violent assault, ambivalent or opaque boundaries between accommodation and transgression, and pervasive vulnerability. It also allows Hartman to appreciate, in their complexity, ambiguities, and contradictions, the forms of togetherness, spirituality, and performance that sustain Black endurance and allow longings for freedom and fugitivity to break through the veils of seeming compliance and ever-present terror. For Hartman the conceptual arsenal of social movement theory—with its focus on subjective claims and conscious strategizing—is of little use, to the extent it is geared to contesting power relations manifesting themselves as hegemony, not the direct, violent, non-negotiable force marking, in Hartman's words, the "accumulation" and "fungibility" of Black being. Hartman, finally, criticizes the disciplinary insularity of African studies by insisting that, on the two shores of the Atlantic, the Middle Passage has permanently and traumatically brought Blackness into the same global structural frame—"skewed life chances, limited access to health and education, premature death, incarceration, and impoverishment"²¹—which she terms the "afterlife of slavery."

Black thought is challenging the study of African social movements to reject the mechanical internalization of concepts and theories that are not accountable to, again in Fanon's terms, "the lived experience of Blackness." Fanon himself was well aware that African nationalist leaders and working-class organizations were constantly tempted with normatively incorporating European modalities of organizing and claim-making, which determined a structural disconnect between the nation-building aspirations of urban-based elites and the vast African peasantry and *lumpenproletariat* confronting, in the colonial context, not just a denial of sovereignty, but the forceful erasure of Black humanity.²² Far from embracing progressive notions of agency and resistance, Fanon ultimately envisioned Black anticolonial revolution as a "leap" beyond politics itself, a world-ending force demanded by the pervasiveness of anti-Blackness as the force that ultimately structured the "colonial situation." Fanon's reflections on the tension between political liberation and Black revolution have inspired Frank Wilderson's afro-pessimist critique of social movement politics as inherently anti-Black. Slavery as a global paradigm of gratuitous violence—or violence that is not the response to a prior transgression—*constitutes* Blackness, Wilderson writes, as a structural positionality of social death, upon which only can rest the stability of non-Black people's forms of life, freedom, capacity, and relationality.²³ Black liberation can only ultimately point, therefore, at the revolutionary antagonism between Blackness and the World itself. What social movement politics has to offer instead, Wilderson continues, is a prospect of

redemption Black people can only claim on condition that Blackness—as a structurally antagonistic positionality—is repudiated and replaced with a politics of cultural identity allowing the expression of Black demands through protocols (such as the liberation or emancipation of women, workers, and colonized nationalities) that are translatable into social movements and admissible to coalitional politics. The framing of social movements’ demands around “third terms”—be they related to national liberation, gender equality, land restitution, civil rights, migrants’ inclusion, decolonization, or the reappropriation of surplus-value—mediating the conflicts between resistant subjects and the state can thus only be premised on consigning Blackness, as an ethico-political position demanding nothing less than the “end of the world,” to silence and invisibility, when not actually defining Blackness as a threat for a politics of social movements’ solidarity. Jared Sexton has argued that Black liberation absolutely defies analogy with any project of political redemption, since it threatens the world precisely by being ultimately irrepresentable and irreducible to any definite set of demands and elusive for any organizational framing of social subjectivity.²⁴

In its racism and violence, colonialism in Africa did not result in the complete, irreparable, and irreversible loss of land and cultural sovereignty, which marked the Middle Passage. The imbrication of colonialism in global anti-Blackness has nonetheless made such African “temporal and cartographic coordinates,” in Wilderson’s terms, absolutely open and vulnerable to white interventions premised on the devaluation and disposability of Black being. Not only has this specifically anti-Black violence manifested itself in the “necropolitical”²⁵ order of colonial rule and what Fanon denounced as “neocolonial” independence under the twin shadows of Western imperialism and domestic authoritarianism. It also continues to devastate African societies in the wake of structural adjustment policies and economic restructuring imposed by international financial organizations and embraced by local elites at immense and often deadly cost to African peoples at all levels of class and gender.

The following sections will discuss different forms of African contentious politics, in various geographical contexts and with a focus on the post-independence reality as shaped by colonialism and anticolonial struggles. The aim is not so much to survey such an empirically multifaceted landscape through the conceptual lens of “social movements,” whose explanatory ambitions are, this introduction has shown, hollow and problematic to say the least. My interest is rather in conceptualizing how specific experiences speak to an African challenge to social movement theory. At the same time, caution is warranted on the possibility of “decolonizing” social movements, an endeavor to which scholarship influenced by subaltern, postcolonial, and indigenous studies has applied itself.²⁶ Social movement studies have privileged legible claims and contestations over hegemony. Even critics of social movements who have centered the contentious yet demandless articulation of the poor’s quotidian “life politics,” “quiet encroachments,” and “everyday forms of resistance”²⁷ remain nonetheless attached to the political as a terrain where power can be contested and claims can find satisfaction in symbolic or material outcomes. Placing Africa in relation to global Blackness and Black theory highlights the limitations of such approaches when confronted to power that ordinarily takes the form of lethal and gratuitous violence rather than the hegemonic solicitation of consent or even the capitalistically enforced necessity of producing surplus.

From anticolonial movements to black consciousness

Before the rise of national movements in the interwar years, and their capacity appeal to the masses following, African opposition to colonialism had reflected and responded to modalities of domination geared at enforcing divisions between urban and rural areas

and among ethnic groups that were variously institutionalized and differentially rewarded by colonial states.²⁸ While opposition to wage labor mostly took the form of escape and migration, protest and confrontation targeted taxation, land seizures, compulsory cultivations, or state violence and could either be supported by local notables disgruntled with colonial interference or address the oppressiveness of “chiefs” appointed by colonial administrators. Early resistance to European rule was mostly localized and cannot be easily categorized according to claims or organizations, as it was rather propelled by religious or spiritual visions of moral and social regeneration. Usually violently repressed, insurgencies like the Zimbabwean *Chimurenga* of 1896–1897, the Maji-Maji in Tanganyika between 1905 and 1907, the 1915 Chilembwe revolt in Nyasaland (Malawi), Simon Kimbangu’s agitation in the Congo during the 1920s, or South Africa’s Israelite movement in 1921 responded to the material devastation and cultural disorientation caused by the colonial conquest and, especially after World War I, socioeconomic hardship and declining living standards.²⁹ They also, however, found in appeals to ultramundane regeneration an alternative to a reality of racialized rule that, for the vast majority of the African population, allowed neither participation in “civil society” nor the possibility of contesting power in “counter-hegemonic” forms. The salience of spirituality and transcendence underpinned, nonetheless, vital connections with Black communities outside Africa, to which white terror had similarly denied opportunities for political expression. Ethiopian churches started as African believers broke away from established denominations in the peculiarly dehumanizing conditions of the mining economy in late nineteenth century Transvaal (South Africa) and rapidly spread across the continent. Ethiopianism was an early Pan-African movement as it built connections, in the United States, with African American churches, which provided educational opportunities through missionary work and the sponsoring of African students at American institutions. Opponents of colonialism like John Chilembwe of Malawi and John Dube, the first president of the African National Congress (ANC) in South Africa, decisively benefitted from such transatlantic relations.³⁰

Pan-Africanist discourse would then take different forms, which greatly inspired anticolonial resistance until the final days of European rule, despite the movement’s uneven diffusion and its prevalence among Christian and Western-educated sectors in urban areas. Garveyism established itself in the 1920s, in the face of considerable repression by colonial authorities, mostly through UNIA branches in port cities, like Freetown and Cape Town, of territories under British control.³¹ In South Africa, Garveyism significantly influenced the ANC’s gradual turn to overt critique of white rule as well as nascent trade union organizations, especially the Industrial and Commercial Workers’ Union (ICU). The Pan-African congresses of the first half of the twentieth century also provided opportunities for African nationalist leaders to develop—through critical conversations across the Black world—an imagination of self-government, equal rights, and socioeconomic advancement. Casely-Hayford’s National Congress of British West Africa in the 1920s; Isaac Wallace-Johnson’s work in the Nigerian labor movement and the West African Youth League in the 1930s; African mobilizations against the Italian Fascist invasion of Ethiopia in 1935; and the formative experiences of Kwame Nkrumah, Jomo Kenyatta, and Nnamdi Azikiwe occurred in this rich, ideologically diverse, geographically plural milieu.³²

Colonialism inserted Africa in global markets and circuits of capitalist investment by exacerbating the continent’s vulnerability caused by dependence on the export of primary commodities. The resulting boom-and-bust cycles—determined by the international prices of raw materials—and the coercive extraction of African resources (land, taxes, forced labor), especially in wartime, proved especially devastating to food production and local commerce.

Economic exploitation and poverty ruptured roles and relations sanctioned by popular moralities and traditions, resulting in collective protests. African women's opposition to colonialism was thus particularly acute in areas, especially across West Africa, where women controlled urban markets.³³ Diffuse and not necessarily confrontational, such mobilizations became at times overt and spectacular, as in the 1929 "Aba Women's War," in Nigeria's Igboland, which expressed a comprehensive rejection of the colonial system in its political, economic, and ideological facets, as well as its despotic violation, with the complicity of male "warrant chiefs," of women's power and prerogatives in community life.

If one takes—as a starting point in trying to conceptualize African opposition to colonialism as a historical antecedent to contemporary mobilizations—the multi-layered landscape here briefly outlined, as well as its complex articulation of explicit ideologies, ethical motifs, and spiritual affinities, then postwar African nationalism cannot be considered a social movement. The nationalist parties that developed during colonialism's final phase envisaged "national liberation" as a unifying banner geared to providing discipline, symbolic coherence, and a mass political projection to a range of rather inchoate collective identities.³⁴ Memories of struggle largely pre-existed the inception of nationalist rhetoric and often voiced antagonism to colonialism through highly localized, not overtly political practices of subversion and refusal, like the physical escape from wage labor and taxation or the unauthorized production and smuggling of food crops. Fanon had emphasized the discrepancy between a "national consciousness" limited to the educated and Westernized urban bourgeoisie and the plight of the poor, the unemployed, and a largely rural population who would only follow leaders committed to a radical break with anti-Black colonial violence, and not just a political and institutional transition away from the colonial state. It is perhaps true that, as Fred Cooper writes, the African working class was more confrontational and less available to cooption by the nationalist bourgeoisie than Fanon had thought.³⁵ The strike waves affecting Senegal, Mali, Sierra Leone, Nigeria, Ghana, Katanga, Kenya, Nyasaland, and South Africa during the 1940s proved decisive in marking the obsolescence and unsustainability of European rule. Labor mobilizations did not go, however, in the direction of revolutionary alliances between workers and peasants and were rather politically capitalized by nationalist parties charting their way to independence by working within the mechanisms of late colonial reforms while keeping a watchful eye on the undesirable unruliness of the masses.

With the exception of the victorious war for Algeria's independence (1954–1962)—replicated in the seventies by the overthrow of white rule in Zimbabwe and Portuguese colonialism in Angola, Mozambique, and Guinea-Bissau—revolutionary warfare remained confined to exceptions that were brutally suffocated by the colonial state (the Madagascar insurrection of 1947; Kenya's Mau Mau in 1952–1956) or its African neocolonial replacements (the Cameroonian rebellion from 1956 to 1970). Sometimes, avowedly Black anticolonial and antiracist revolutions were reined in by postcolonial leaders anxious to douse popular radicalism and forestall feared Communist infiltration in the name of national unity and developmental nation-building, as in the case of the 1964 Afro-Shirazi revolution against Arab rule in Zanzibar, resulting in the island's absorption into independent Tanzania. The post-independence leaders' obsession with unification along national lines proved fatal to projects of radical transformation.³⁶ Labor movements were in most cases realigned under increasingly despotic regimes using a mix of overt repression, threats against workers' allegedly better-off social status, cooptation at leadership level, and modest social benefits. The consolidation of African independences within the framework of "national" borders inherited from colonialism and neocolonial subjection to Western imperialism also accompanied the eclipse of Pan-Africanism, at least as an alternative option for a continent liberated from European rule.

African peasants proved less amenable to control by former pro-independence movements now bent on occupying the bureaucratic apparatus of the state and positions of economic intermediaries between global capitalists and local markets and business. Agricultural producers faced postcolonial states engaged in coercive modalities of surplus extraction that mirrored the most predatory proclivities of colonial regimes. While strategies of disengagement from market relations continued to prove a vital survival asset in times of deep economic crisis, peasant opposition occasionally took the form of overt insurgency, as in the Mulelist revolution of Congo's Kwilu region between 1963 and 1965.³⁷ Direct and collective peasants' action generally revealed, however, a picture that is more complicated than clear-cut distinctions between "tacit" protest masked as acquiescence and overt rebellion with revolutionary pretensions. On one hand, ethnic identifications proved a powerful factor of fragmentation, deepened by states that configured networks of patronage along ethnic lines. On the other hand, if the postcolonial "deracialization" of citizenship opened the way to a "re-ethnicization" of the political space,³⁸ it also disclosed unexpected avenues to peasants' movements and organizations. The salience of the ethnic factor was, in any case, counterbalanced by the growing reliance of rural cooperatives and development associations on global donors, NGOs, and aid agencies. International support was mostly channeled through local governmental mechanisms reflecting Western technocratic notions of development and modernization, which were profoundly racialized and anti-Black to the extent they assumed African growers and pastoralists to be an unduly irrational and atavistic burden on the land's "carrying capacity," unless their activities took place under the supervision of experts—often produced by colonial administrations—aligned with Western economic epistemes.³⁹ In some cases, however, as in Senegal and Mali between the 1960s and the 1970s, international support was used by peasant movements transcending ethnic constituencies to build solidarity against governmental exactions and neglect. Despite occasionally resorting to confrontation, it proved difficult for these movements to maintain their independence as the state, both a major recipient of development aid and the gatekeeper for commercial opportunities, reabsorbed them within its networks of patronage, which sometimes allowed leaders of peasant associations to rise to the ranks of the political elite.⁴⁰

Student movements were a peculiarly thorny challenge for independent African states, since they expressed not only collective disgust at the continuities with the colonial past—of which younger generations had increasingly tenuous memories based on direct experience—but especially disillusionment toward leaders blamed for betraying the hopes of decolonization for democracy and human dignity, but also jobs and material improvements. Most postcolonial governments heavily emphasized the emancipatory potential of schooling and, in the absence of a diversified economic base, students regarded state employment as a desirable life path. Education also allowed a heightened perception of the gap between the promise and reality of independence, as well as insights—reinforced by intellectual currents across the Black world—into the imperial and anti-Black paradigm structuring Africa's insertion in the postwar "community of nations." Recent scholarship has documented, against the neglect in earlier research, the post-independence vitality of African student movements, even reclaiming a place for the continent in the "global 1968," the imagination of which had done much to turn "new social movements" into a hot academic topic, and yet had completely ignored Africa.⁴¹ Student protests across North Africa did indeed catalyze popular opposition and solidarity from parents, workers, and unemployed people. In some cases, most notably Tunisia, they were also organizationally connected with the coeval Parisian insurrection.⁴² Students were the most vocal opponents of the authoritarian turn in Zaïre (today's Democratic Republic of the Congo) following the US-sponsored assassination of Patrice Lumumba

and the rise to dictatorial power of Joseph Mobutu in 1965. In Ethiopia, students mobilized against American military bases; in Tanzania, they lambasted the government's acceptance of American economic aid. In Senegal, protesting students demanding jobs and food were joined by striking workers in a conflict that, by March 1968, had brought the government close to collapse. As military repression, aided by French troops, quickly regained the upper hand, the movement's international resonance caused much damage to the reputation of President Senghor and the neocolonial leanings marring his version of *negritude*.⁴³

The key place, in African students' repertoires, of anti-imperialist critique as well as the denunciation of the racial logics of neocolonialism and foreign interference, speaks to a resurgence of Pan-Africanist political affinities and imaginative connections within a long *Black* 1968—if one takes that year as somewhat representative of the full arc of the transatlantic Black revolutionary cycle from the mid-1960s to the mid-1970s⁴⁴—which is obscured by reclamations of Africa's place in a generic “global” 1968. What is at stake here is, in other words, the importance of locating African struggles in the global trajectory of Black Power, rather than finding a place for African conflicts in the sociological or politological literature on “new social movements.” Such stakes are particularly evident in the thought and action of Steve Biko and South Africa's Black Consciousness Movement as a unique point of convergence of student activism, Black revolution, and an indictment of the anti-Blackness informing the “nonracial” rubrics of white and non-Black left radicalism.⁴⁵ Not only was Biko keenly connected to the terms of a continental debate—deeply influenced by Fanon, *negritude*, and African socialism—on what Black liberation fully and actually entails, beyond the Western-orchestrated pageantry of the sovereign nation-state. His dialogue, at a greater geographical distance, with Black theology and existentialism in Europe and America also configured the demand for Black humanity as uncompromising opposition to the social, political, economic, and ideological structures for which the violent denial of Black humanity is a quintessential condition of existence and vitality. A specific target of Biko's critique was the anti-Blackness of the white liberal left and “class analysis,” which for him could only operate as modes of critical engagement by silencing, thereby perpetuating, Black suffering.⁴⁶ Black consciousness as a global aspiration for Black leadership in Black revolution was for Biko the adequate articulation of such suffering, an articulation whose definition in terms of “politics” and “movements” was nonetheless hampered by the policing and patronizing deployed by more properly political movements against the prospect of Black self-determination.

The radicalism of African students expressed an acute awareness of the crisis of the post-independence dispensation, a crisis that was devastating the lives of young people through the unique convergence of its many vectors: economic vulnerability, existential precariousness, a sense of being betrayed by their elders, the anti-Black racial logic inherent to neocolonial domination and imperialist exploitation. By the 1980s, responses to socioeconomic collapse through the brutality of neoliberal structural adjustment would bring to the fore new opportunities for radicalization as well as new forces of fragmentation of African struggles.

African mobilizations in the age of structural adjustment

The deepening profit squeeze in major capitalist economies during the 1970s determined a collapse of state revenues backed by the export of African primary commodities, exposing the insolvency of African governments, which had previously borrowed on generous terms from international lenders to fund their development projects. The resulting “debt crisis,” as

scholars intent on primarily blaming the faults of African governments called it, was met with merciless determination by foreign creditors and the international organizations deputized to represent them, primarily the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the World Bank. The “structural adjustment programs” such organizations devised were extremely punitive for African people. The market liberalizing and business-friendly logic informing such policies reflected the ideological tenets that critics had by then identified as “neoliberalism.” Despite the end of authoritarian governments and the rise of multi-party systems in most of the continent during the 1990s, new liberal-democratic states and elected leaders had little or no say over structural adjustment programs and their strict conditionalities. The drastic downsizing in government programs and employment, the removal of subsidies on basic necessities, the opening of domestic markets to international competition, and a renewed emphasis on the export of raw materials to the detriment of food crops and local systems of subsistence plunged hundreds of millions into poverty or death, causing immense damage to virtually every African social strata, from the formally employed to the urban poor, from rural food growers to the informal sector, from students to businesspeople.

The shrinkage of the African state did not necessarily penalize the political elites, which found new self-enrichment opportunities in the privatizing sectors of the economy, but decisively eroded existing networks for access to public resources. Structural adjustment programs dramatically underscored the fragile social and economic foundations of post-independence leaders’ claims to national unity as growing numbers, not necessarily identified along ethnic lines, remained excluded from vital social provisions. The postcolonial call to nation-building had contained differences among socioeconomic interests for more than a decade, but now the searing gap between people’s aspirations for actual freedom and the grim reality of a hollowed out national sovereignty could find new radical expressions in collective mobilization. It is only at this late stage that something vaguely approaching what academic specialists call “social movements” makes its appearance throughout Africa. Yet, as the introduction suggested, the cultural, ideological, and spiritual influences of earlier anticolonial and postcolonial conflicts as well as the specificity and complexity of African collective practices still make African opposition to neoliberalism largely illegible through “social movement” as an abstract conceptual lens.

Protests against structural adjustment exploded between the 1980s and the 1990s. Scholars used the expression “IMF riots” to characterize their grievances in coherent terms. In Tunisia, Sudan, and Morocco, rebellions erupted against the abolition of food subsidies. In Liberia, Niger, and Madagascar, they targeted cuts in public sector wages and employment. Economic collapse in Côte d’Ivoire, once revered by development experts as a success story in African capitalism, brought students and workers to the streets in February 1990, decrying governmental corruption as well as electricity cutoffs. In some cases, such as Zambia in 1991, mobilizations against austerity and worsening living conditions, in which workers took a leading role, did actually propel the pro-democracy movement, although regimes put in power through democratic elections quickly confirmed their commitment to implementing neoliberal restructuring.⁴⁷

Africa’s structural adjustment validated the violent logic of anti-Black raciality insofar it assumed the neoliberal “Washington consensus” as the pathway to development for populations that, in their daily material lives, were made disposable on a massive scale. A similar logic was at work in the concept—“civil society”—that rose to prominence in academic analyses of Africa’s pro-democracy and anti-austerity movements. The liberal praise of “civil society” was a prescriptive framework that castigated as dysfunctional to democratic stability any collective expression of claims and grievances refusing to be

confined to a politically moderate influence on the institutional or electoral arena.⁴⁸ Consequently, radical critiques of capitalism and neoliberalism as well as militant direct action were demonized so that, in the funding policies of Western aid providers and NGOs, support for African civil society acquired a strategic functionality akin to counterinsurgency. Yet, “civil society” proved no more adequate than “social movements” as an explanatory tool for African practices evolving along increasingly indistinct boundaries between survival, mobilization, and collective action. Cameroonian political theorist, Basile Ndjio, observed that—amid generalized disillusionment with the fading promises of independence and remote prospects for revolutionary change or Pan-African solidarity—African urban youth ordinarily respond to state violence and neoliberal austerity through “popular practices of insubordination and impoliteness,” including the desecration of monumental places and a deliberately excessive public display of sexuality and bodily eroticism.⁴⁹ It would be, however, a mistake, Ndjio continues, to merely see in these expressions an apolitical “safety valve” for cynicism and hopelessness. They are rather a collective and sensual embrace of indiscipline and indocility explicitly mocking grotesque calls to order by authoritarian states. Although defying any categorization and representation in terms of social movement, such practices, known in Cameroon as “*carrefours de la joie*” (“crossroads of joy”) are nonetheless perceived—on account of their elusiveness and lack of political demands, which limit possibilities of cooptation—as highly subversive by ruling elites.

Even when it is gathered around collective claims and grievances, African mobilization politics is hardly legible as a “social movement” sphere distinct from either the state or the micropolitics of survival. Struggles for land and resources in the oil-rich Niger Delta have articulated a radical critique, often backed by armed militancy, of multinational corporations and environmental destruction. Yet they maintain a range of ambivalent relations with local officials, especially as these demand their own access to resources vis-à-vis the central government. It is not surprising, Michael Watts writes, that experts aligned with the Washington consensus resort to racist stereotypes such as “American gangland” to depict insurgencies like the Movement for the Emancipation of the Niger Delta (MEND).⁵⁰ Such experiences are in fact far more in line with a long and glorious global history of Black self-defense and self-determination, also demonized as “gang-like” in the US, rather than the self-policing invited by the notion of “civil society.” The Niger Delta can be taken as an example of the renewed vulnerability facing African multitudes, by now mostly living in precarious conditions and without stable income prospects within urban areas, while corporate land grabs are ravaging vast rural territories that, in a renewed global scramble for resources, have attracted the attention of emerging powers, such as China, India, Brazil, or Turkey. Yet, nationwide landless peoples’ movements along Latin American lines have rarely emerged in Africa, despite the state’s complicity with global investors. Prospects for African rural movements have been hampered by governmental cooptation, personalized populist politicking, the moderating influence of NGO funding, or ethnic divisions. Deeper reasons for the evanescence of land-based social movements in Africa are to be found in the lack of a clear class differentiation between landless and landholding groups, since traditional and often overlapping claims on agricultural, forest, or grazing land are sustained by localized systems of moral economy of which the state can be contradictorily portrayed as the ideal defender and the practical violator. Large-scale land occupation movements are confined to specific realities (Zimbabwe being the most notorious) produced by the harshest forms of settler colonialism and white supremacy. Opposition to corporate incursions in land grabs’ flashpoints like Madagascar, Uganda, or Ethiopia, however, has shown a more ambiguous pattern of confrontation,

constantly oscillating from direct action to constitutional legalism and appeals to politicians' benevolence.⁵¹

African workers and women have been hit particularly hard by structural adjustment. Labor movements that once heavily depended on the state for both their rank-and-file among public employees and institutional protection and incorporation have been generally decimated. The increasingly volatile connection between African urban residents and the world of production is evident in the vast outnumbering of the unionized or unionizable working class by those eking out a living in the informal sector. Scholars have proposed "social movement unionism"—or alliances between workers and a range of other marginalized sectors—as a way out of the crisis of the labor movement. Yet, the precarity of self-employed workers is not merely a sign of vulnerability, but also reflects long-standing critiques of wage labor discipline and insubordination against productivist dictates that in Africa have never really broken with colonial and anti-Black ideologies.⁵² When not engaged in practices of excessive consumption, popular illegalities, and impolite disregard for order, to recall Ndjio's analysis, the self-employed may well find avenues for collective mobilization that starkly depart from the ethos of the working class. Paul Lubeck has thus documented how Northern Nigerian labor constituencies ravaged by structural adjustment found a more attractive ethical worldview and social practice in political Islam, which in West Africa has emerged as an arena where multiple religious identities and ideologies are contesting the allegiance of the disenfranchised and disillusioned.⁵³ In addition to shrinking economic opportunities, austerity has brought African women the intersecting burdens of increasingly assertive patriarchal authority—especially as men left jobless by restructuring have moved into traditionally female market occupations, or, in rural areas, have exerted a more stringent control on income from export agriculture—and reduced support from state-provided health and welfare services. African women's responses to such simultaneous oppression has, to some extent, consisted in advancing forms of—primarily middle-class—feminism geared to rights and recognition. However, more widespread has been the reclamation of the centrality of women's suffering and strategies across a range of struggles that cannot be simply identified in gender terms. Thus mobilizations to defend communities' access to the land against the predatory and racist incursions of corporate capital have been decisively inspired and energized by African women's assertion of leadership roles based on traditional moral authority, place-specific historical memories of women's struggles against white rule, and spiritual imageries centering connections between motherhood and the aversion to capitalism of the earth's reproductive and community-nurturing powers.⁵⁴

Conclusion

In the study of Africa's contentious politics, the expression "social movement" obscures much more than it enlightens. That has a lot to do with the fact that, in the historical trajectory from colonial rule to neocolonial independence to neoliberal austerity, the "political" has recursively stood to African social and cultural practices in a relationship of violence and terror, "haunted" by the anti-Blackness pervading institutional dispensations, development policies, and visions of order, stability, and governability. Far from enjoying access to avenues for the counter-hegemonic contestation of power—to which social movement studies gesture—ordinary Africans' lives have rather "insisted" in the global afterlife of slavery and the endless "wake" of the Middle Passage.⁵⁵ It is, if anything, a sign of the optical distortion generated by the concept "African social movements" that the overwhelming majority of recent studies on this topic are limited to

the one country, South Africa, where social movements have been most explicitly theorized and invoked as a “project.”⁵⁶ A literature too vast to be summarized in this limited space has then conferred the “social movement” mantle to provide political coherence to a host of mobilizations over the delivery of water and electricity, resistance to shack dwellers’ evictions, access to HIV treatment, and the refusal of privatization. But, elsewhere, African social practices of insurgency, insubordination, or just impoliteness have been refractory to the legibility demanded by social movement theory and activism.

A notion that neoliberalism appeared to have kicked to the curb—revolution—has instead been unexpectedly resurrected by the events in Egypt and Tunisia in the early 2010s, echoed by insurrections in Algeria and Sudan at the time of this writing. As a prospect, revolution remains, nonetheless, exposed to the complexities and ambivalences broadly summarized in this chapter, and one can hardly discern the emergence of either self-conscious subjectivities or ideological frameworks that can sustain visions of revolutionary redemption. As for the core theme of this volume, Panafricanism, if there is a Pan-African dimension in post-structural adjustment struggles, perhaps it is not to be found in the continental gatherings—such as mobilizations for the World Conference Against Racism in Durban (2001), the World Summit for Sustainable Development in Johannesburg (2002), or the World Social Forum in Nairobi (2007)—that sometimes evoke or merely allude to such ideological lineages. High-profile activist events have, if anything, been criticized for their middle-class elitism and unaccountable platforming of well-heeled professional activists distant from the quotidian existence of communities they claim to represent.⁵⁷ What is Pan-African about current African struggles is less about explicit ideologies or supra-national organizing than the objective sameness—at the structural and ontological, rather than contingent and experiential, level—of the enemies these struggles face. The questions raised by the mobilizations discussed here have a power that consists, as Fanon explained, in their speaking to a global *Black* refusal of the anti-Black world. As such, African claims resonate with Black lives equally positioned as targets of the gratuitous violence of civil society in Flint, Detroit, New Orleans, Rio de Janeiro, Kingston, or Lampedusa. What comes in the wake of such encounters between Panafricanism and Black antagonism will be a matter of praxis as well as analysis.

Notes

- 1 See, for example, Jeff Goodwin and James M. Jasper, eds. *The Social Movement Reader: Cases and Concepts* (Chichester: Wiley Blackwell, 2015); Harry E. Vanden, Peter F. Funke, and Gary Prevost, eds. *The New Global Politics: Global Social Movements in the Twenty-First Century* (Abingdon: Routledge, 2017); Berch Berberoglu, ed. *The Palgrave Handbook of Social Movements, Revolution, and Social Transformation* (Cham, Switzerland: Palgrave MacMillan, 2019).
- 2 Andreas Eckert, “Social Movements in Africa,” in *The History of Social Movements in Global Perspective: A Survey*, ed. Stefan Berger and Holger Nehring (London: Palgrave MacMillan, 2017), 211–24.
- 3 Mahmood Mamdani and Ernest Wamba-dia-Wamba, eds. *African Studies in Social Movements and Democracy* (Dakar: CODESRIA, 1995).
- 4 Stephen Ellis and Ineke van Kessel, eds. *Movers and Shakers: Social Movements in Africa* (Leiden: Brill, 2009).
- 5 Stephen Ellis and Ineke van Kessel, “Introduction: African Social Movements or Social Movements in Africa?” in *Movers and Shakers: Social Movements in Africa*, ed. Stephen Ellis and Ineke van Kessel (Leiden: Brill, 2009), 1–16.

- 6 Gabriel Hetland and Jeff Goodwin, "The Strange Disappearance of Capitalism from Social Movement Studies," in *Marxism and Social Movements*, ed. Colin Barker et al. (Leiden: Brill, 2013), 83–102.
- 7 Mamadou Diouf, *Political Liberalisation or Democratic Transition: African Perspectives* (Dakar: CODES-RIA, 1998), 20.
- 8 Cit. in Diouf, *Political Liberalisation*, 21.
- 9 Ibid.
- 10 Diouf, *Political Liberalisation*, 20.
- 11 Achille Mbembe, *On the Postcolony* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1994), 5.
- 12 Jemima Pierre, *The Predicament of Blackness: Postcolonial Ghana and the Politics of Race* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2013), 222.
- 13 Gaurav Desai and Adeline Masquelier, eds. *Critical Terms for the Study of Africa* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2018).
- 14 Pierre, *The Predicament of Blackness*, 97.
- 15 Denise Ferreira da Silva, *Toward a Global Idea of Race* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2007).
- 16 Frantz Fanon, "The Fact of Blackness," in *Black Skin, White Masks*, trans. Charles Lam Markmann (New York: Grove Press, 1967 [1952]), 82–108.
- 17 Sylvia Wynter, "No Humans Involved: An Open Letter to My Colleagues," *Forum NHI: Knowledge for the twenty-first Century* 1, no. 1 (1994): 69.
- 18 Roseanne Chantiluke, Brian Kwoba, and Athinangamso Nkopo, eds. *Rhodes Must Fall: The Struggle to Decolonise the Racist Heart of Empire* (London: Zed Books, 2018).
- 19 Wynter, "No Humans Involved."
- 20 Saidiya Hartman, *Scenes of Subjection: Terror, Slavery, and Self-Making in Nineteenth-Century America* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1997).
- 21 Saidiya Hartman, *Lose Your Mother: A Journey Along the Atlantic Slave Route* (New York: Farrar, Straus, and Giroux, 2007), 6.
- 22 Frantz Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, trans. Richard Philcox (New York: Grove Press, 2004 [1963]).
- 23 Frank B. Wilderson, III, "The Black Liberation Army and the Paradox of Political Engagement," in *Postcoloniality-Decoloniality-Black Critique: Joints and Fissures*, ed. Sabine Broeck and Carsten Junker (Frankfurt-am-Main: Campus Verlag, 2015), 175–210.
- 24 Jared Sexton, "The *Vel* of Slavery: Tracking the Figure of the Unsovereign," *Critical Sociology* 42, no. 4–5 (2014): 583–97.
- 25 Achille Mbembe, "Necropolitics," *Public Culture* 15, no. 1 (2003): 11–40.
- 26 See, for example, Vince Boudreau, "Decolonization and Social Movements," in *The Wiley-Blackwell Encyclopedia of Social and Political Movements*, ed. David A. Snow, Donatella della Porta, Bert Klandermans, and Doug McAdam (Hoboken, NJ: Wiley and Sons, 2013), <https://doi.org/10.1002/9780470674871.wbespm062>; Rochona Majumdar, "Subaltern Studies as a History of Social Movements in India," in *The History of Social Movements in Global Perspective: A Survey*, ed. Stefan Berger and Holger Nehring (London: Palgrave MacMillan, 2017): 63–92.
- 27 James C. Scott, *Weapons of the Weak: Everyday Forms of Peasant Resistance* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1990); Asef Bayat "From 'Dangerous Classes' to 'Quiet Rebels': Politics of the Urban Subaltern in the Global South," *International Sociology* 15, no. 3 (2000): 533–57.
- 28 Mahmood Mamdani, *Citizen and Subject: Contemporary Africa and the Legacy of Late Colonialism* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1996).
- 29 Gregory Maddox, ed. *Conquest and Resistance to Colonialism in Africa* (Abingdon: Routledge, 1993).
- 30 Hakim Adi, *Pan-Africanism: A History* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 16–18.
- 31 Ibid., 34–38.
- 32 Leo Spitzer and LaRay Denzer, "I.T.A. Wallace-Johnson and the West African Youth League," *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 6, no. 3 (1973): 413–52; Robert T. Vinson, *The Americans Are Coming! Dreams of African American Liberation in Segregationist South Africa* (Athens, OH: Ohio University Press, 2012).
- 33 Aili Mari Tripp et al., *African Women's Movements: Transforming Political Landscapes* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009).

- 34 Miles Larmer, "Editorial: Social Movement Struggles in Africa," *Review of African Political Economy* 125 (2010): 251–62.
- 35 Frederick Cooper, *Decolonization and African Society: The Labor Question in French and British Africa* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996): 14–16.
- 36 Bill Freund, *The Making of Contemporary Africa: The Development of African Society Since 1800*. Third edition (Basingstoke: Palgrave MacMillan, 2016), 215–27.
- 37 Claude E. Welch, Jr., "Ideological Foundations of Revolution in Kwilu," *African Studies Review* 18, no. 2 (1975): 116–28.
- 38 Mamdani, *Citizen and Subject*.
- 39 Kalpana Wilson, *Race, Racism, and Development: Interrogating History, Discourse, and Practice* (London: Zed Books, 2013).
- 40 Marie Hrabanski, "Internal Dynamics, the State, and Recourse to External Aid: Towards a Historical Sociology of the Peasant Movement in Senegal since the 1960s," *Review of African Political Economy* 125 (2010): 281–97; Alexis Roy, "Peasant Struggles in Mali: From Defending Cotton Producers' Interests to Becoming Part of the Malian Power Structures," *Review of African Political Economy* 125 (2010): 299–314.
- 41 Heike Becker, "'Power to the People': the 1968 Revolt in Africa," *Review of African Political Economy* (2018), accessed April 25, 2019, <http://roape.net/2018/05/29/power-to-the-people-the-1968-revolt-in-africa/>.
- 42 Heike Becker and David Seddon, "Africa's 1968: Protests and Uprisings Across the Continent," *Review of African Political Economy* (2018), accessed April 25, 2019, <http://roape.net/2018/05/31/africa-1968-protests-and-uprisings-across-the-continent>.
- 43 Becker, "Power to the People".
- 44 Frank B. Wilderson, III, *Red, White & Black: Cinema and the Structure of US Antagonisms* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010), 117–25.
- 45 Andile Mngxitama, Amanda Alexander, and Nigel Gibson, eds., *Biko Lives! Contesting the Legacies of Steve Biko* (New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2008).
- 46 Steve Biko, *I Write What I Like* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2002).
- 47 John Walton and David Seddon, *Free Markets and Food Riots: The Politics of Global Adjustment* (Cambridge, MA: Blackwell, 1994), 135–170.
- 48 Leonard Markovitz, "Civil Society, Pluralism, Goldilocks, and Other Fairy Tales in Africa," in *Contested Terrains and Constructed Categories. Contemporary Africa in Focus*, ed. George Bond and Nigel Gibson (Boulder, CO: Westview, 2002), 117–45.
- 49 Basile Ndjio, "Carrefour de la Joie: Popular Deconstruction of the African Postcolonial Public Sphere," *Africa* 75, no. 3: 267.
- 50 Michael Watts, "Petro-Insurgency or Criminal Syndicate? Conflict and Violence in the Niger Delta," *Review of African Political Economy* 114 (2007): 637–60.
- 51 Elisa Greco, "Struggles and Resistance Against Land Dispossession in Africa: An Overview," in *Handbook of Land and Water Grabs in Africa: Foreign Direct Investment and Food and Water Security*, ed. Tony Allan et al. (London: Routledge, 2014), 456–68.
- 52 Franco Barchiesi, *Precarious Liberation: Workers, the State, and Contested Social Citizenship in Postapartheid South Africa* (Albany, NY: State University of New York Press, 2011).
- 53 Paul Lubeck, "Islamic Protest Under Semi-Industrial Capitalism: 'Yan Tatsine Explained,'" *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 55, no. 4 (1985): 369–89.
- 54 Terisa E. Turner and Leigh S. Brownhill, "'Women Never Surrendered': The Mau Mau and Globalization from Below in Kenya, 1980–2000," in *There is an Alternative. Subsistence and Worldwide Resistance to Corporate Globalization*, ed. Viktoria Bennholdt-Thomsen, Nicholas Faraclas, and Claudia von Werlthof (London: Zed Books, 2001), 106–32; Charles C. Fonchingong, Emmanuel Yenshu Vubo, and Maurice Ufon Beseng, "Traditions of Women's Social Protest Movements and Collective Mobilisation: Lessons from Aghem and Kedjom Women," in *Civil Society and the Search for Development Alternatives in Cameroon*, ed. Emmanuel Yenshu Vubo (Dakar: CODESRIA, 2008), 125–41.
- 55 Christina Sharpe, *In the Wake: On Blackness and Being* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2016).
- 56 See, for example, Ahmed Veriava, "Introduction: Reopening the Constituent Process," *South Atlantic Quarterly* 114, no. 2 (2015): 426–35.
- 57 Prishani Naidoo, "Subaltern Sexiness: From a Politics of Representation to a Politics of Difference," *African Studies* 69, no. 3 (2010): 439–56.

Bibliography

- Adi, Hakim. *Pan-Africanism: A History*. London: Bloomsbury, 2018.
- Barchiesi, Franco. *Precarious Liberation: workers, the State, and Contested Social Citizenship in Postapartheid South Africa*. Albany, NY: State University of New York Press, 2011.
- Bayat, Asef. "From 'Dangerous Classes' to 'Quiet Rebels': politics of the Urban Subaltern in the Global South." *International Sociology* 15, 3 (2000): 533–557.
- Becker, Heike. "'power to the People': the 1968 Revolt in Africa." *Review of African Political Economy* (2018). Accessed April 25, 2019, <http://roape.net/2018/05/29/power-to-the-people-the-1968-revolt-in-africa/>.
- Becker, Heike and David, Seddon. "Africa's 1968: protests and Uprisings across the Continent," *Review of African Political Economy* (2018). Accessed April 25, 2019, <http://roape.net/2018/05/31/africas-1968-protests-and-uprisings-across-the-continent>.
- Berberoglu, Berch, ed. *The Palgrave Handbook of Social Movements, Revolution, and Social Transformation*. Cham, Switzerland: Palgrave MacMillan, 2019.
- Biko, Steve. *I Write What I Like*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2002.
- Boudreau, Vince. "Decolonization and Social Movements." In *The Wiley-Blackwell Encyclopedia of Social and Political Movements*, edited by David A. Snow, Donatella Della Porta, Bert Klandermans, and Doug McAdam, Hoboken, NJ: Wiley and Sons, 2013. <https://doi.org/10.1002/9780470674871.wbespm062>.
- Chantiluke, Roseanne, Kwoba, Brian and Nkopo, Athinangamso, eds. *Rhodes Must Fall: the Struggle to Decolonise the Racist Heart of Empire*. London: Zed Books, 2018.
- Cooper, Frederick. *Decolonization and African Society: the Labor Question in French and British Africa*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996.
- Da Silva, Denise Ferreira. *Toward a Global Idea of Race*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 2007.
- Desai, Gaurav and Masquelier, Adeline, eds. *Critical Terms for the Study of Africa*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2018.
- Diouf, Mamadou. *Political Liberalisation or Democratic Transition: African Perspectives*. Dakar: CODESRIA, 1998.
- Eckert, Andreas. "Social Movements in Africa." In *The History of Social Movements in Global Perspective: A Survey*, edited by Stefan Berger and Holger Nehring, 211–224. London: Palgrave MacMillan, 2017.
- Ellis, Stephen and Ineke, van Kessel. "Introduction: African Social Movements or Social Movements in Africa?" In *Movers and Shakers. Social Movements in Africa*, edited by Stephen Ellis and Ineke van Kessel, 1–16. Leiden: Brill, 2009.
- Ellis, Stephen and van Kessel, Ineke, eds. *Movers and Shakers: social Movements in Africa*. Leiden: Brill, 2009.
- Fanon, Frantz. "The Fact of Blackness." In *Black Skin, White Masks*, translated by Charles Lam Markmann, 82–108. New York: Grove Press, 1967 (1952).
- Fanon, Frantz. *The Wretched of the Earth, Translated By, Richard Philcox*. New York: Grove Press, 2004 (1963).
- Fonchingong, Charles C., Vubo, Emmanuel Yenshu and Beseng, Maurice Ufon. "Traditions of Women's Social Protest Movements and Collective Mobilisation: lessons from Aghem and Kedjom Women." In *Civil Society and the Search for Development Alternatives in Cameroon*, edited by Emmanuel Yenshu Vubo, 125–141. Dakar: CODESRIA, 2008.
- Freund, Bill. *The Making of Contemporary Africa: the Development of African Society since 1800*. Third edition. Basingstoke: Palgrave MacMillan, 2016.
- Goodwin, Jeff and Jasper, James M., eds. *The Social Movement Reader: cases and Concepts*. Chichester: Wiley Blackwell, 2015.
- Greco, Elisa. "Struggles and Resistance against Land Dispossession in Africa: an Overview." In *Handbook of Land and Water Grabs in Africa: foreign Direct Investment and Food and Water Security*, edited by Tony Allan, Martin Keulertz, Suvi Sojamo, and Jeroen Warner, 456–468. London: Routledge, 2014.
- Hartman, Saidiya. *Scenes of Subjection: terror, Slavery, and Self-Making in Nineteenth-Century America*. New York: Oxford University Press, 1997.
- Hartman, Saidiya. *Lose Your Mother: A Journey along the Atlantic Slave Route*. New York: Farrar, Straus, and Giroux, 2007.

- Hetland, Gabriel and Goodwin, Jeff. "The Strange Disappearance of Capitalism from Social Movement Studies." In *Marxism and Social Movements*, edited by Colin Barker, Laurence Cox, John Krinsky, and Alf Gunvald Nilsen, 83–102. Leiden: Brill, 2013.
- Hrabanski, Marie. "Internal Dynamics, the State, and Recourse to External Aid: towards a Historical Sociology of the Peasant Movement in Senegal since the 1960s." *Review of African Political Economy* 125, (2010): 281–297.
- Larmer, Miles. "Editorial: Social Movement Struggles in Africa." *Review of African Political Economy* 125, (2010): 251–262.
- Lubeck, Paul. "Islamic Protest Under Semi-Industrial Capitalism: 'Yan Tatsine Explained.'" *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 55, 4 (1985): 369–389.
- Maddox, Gregory, ed. *Conquest and Resistance to Colonialism in Africa*. Abingdon: Routledge, 1993.
- Majumdar, Rochona. "Subaltern Studies as a History of Social Movements in India." In *The History of Social Movements in Global Perspective: A Survey*, edited by Stefan Berger and Holger Nehring, 63–92. London: Palgrave MacMillan, 2017.
- Mamdani, Mahmood. *Citizen and Subject: contemporary Africa and the Legacy of Late Colonialism*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1996.
- Mamdani, Mahmood and Wamba-dia-Wamba, Ernest, eds. *African Studies in Social Movements and Democracy*. Dakar: CODESRIA, 1995.
- Markovitz, Leonard. "Civil Society, Pluralism, Goldilocks, and Other Fairy Tales in Africa." In *Contested Terrains and Constructed Categories: contemporary Africa in Focus*, edited by George Bond and Nigel Gibson, 117–145. Boulder, CO: Westview, 2002.
- Mbembe, Achille. *On the Postcolony*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press, 1994.
- Mbembe, Achille. "Necropolitics." *Public Culture* 15, 1 (2003): 11–40.
- Mngxitama, Andile, Alexander, Amanda and Gibson, Nigel, eds. *Biko Lives! Contesting the Legacies of Steve Biko*. New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2008.
- Naidoo, Prishani. "Subaltern Sexiness: from a Politics of Representation to a Politics of Difference." *African Studies* 69, 3 (2010): 439–456.
- Ndjo, Basile. "Carrefour De La Joie: popular Deconstruction of the African Postcolonial Public Sphere." *Africa* 75, 3 (2005): 265–294.
- Pierre, Jemima. *The Predicament of Blackness: postcolonial Ghana and the Politics of Race*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2013.
- Roy, Alexis. "Peasant Struggles in Mali: from Defending Cotton Producers' Interests to Becoming Part of the Malian Power Structures." *Review of African Political Economy* 125, (2010): 299–314.
- Scott, James C. *Weapons of the Weak: everyday Forms of Peasant Resistance*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1990.
- Sexton, Jared. "The Vel of Slavery: tracking the Figure of the Unsovereign." *Critical Sociology* 42, 4–5 (2014): 583–597.
- Sharpe, Christina. *In the Wake: on Blackness and Being*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2016.
- Spitzer, Leo and Denzer, LaRay. "I.T.A. Wallace-Johnson and the West African Youth League." *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 6, 3 (1973): 413–452.
- Tripp, Aili Mari, Casimiro, Isabel, Kwesiga, Joy C. and Mungwa, Alice. *African Women's Movements: transforming Political Landscapes*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009.
- Turner, Terisa E. and Brownhill, Leigh S. "'women Never Surrendered': the Mau Mau and Globalization from below in Kenya, 1980–2000." In *There Is an Alternative. Subsistence and Worldwide Resistance to Corporate Globalization*, edited by Viktoria Bennholdt-Thomsen, Nicholas Farclas, and Claudia von Werlhof, 106–132. London: Zed Books, 2001.
- Vanden, Harry E., Funke, Peter F. and Prevost, Gary, eds. *The New Global Politics: global Social Movements in the Twenty-First Century*. Abingdon: Routledge, 2017.
- Veriava, Ahmed. "Introduction: reopening the Constituent Process." *South Atlantic Quarterly* 114, 2 (2015): 426–435.
- Vinson, Robert T. *The Americans are Coming! Dreams of African American Liberation in Segregationist South Africa*. Athens, OH: Ohio University Press, 2012.
- Walton, John and Seddon, David. *Free Markets and Food Riots: the Politics of Global Adjustment*. Cambridge, MA: Blackwell, 1993.
- Watts, Michael. "Petro-insurgency or Criminal Syndicate? Conflict and Violence in the Niger Delta." *Review of African Political Economy* 114, (2007): 637–660.

- Welch, Claude E., Jr. "Ideological Foundations of Revolution in Kwilu." *African Studies Review* 18, 2 (1975): 116–128.
- Wilderson, Frank B., III. *Red, White & Black: cinema and the Structure of US Antagonisms*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2010.
- Wilderson, Frank B., III. "The Black Liberation Army and the Paradox of Political Engagement." In *Post-coloniality-Decoloniality-Black Critique: joints and Fissures*, edited by Sabine Broeck and Carsten Junker, 175–210. Frankfurt-am-Main: Campus Verlag, 2015.
- Wilson, Kalpana. *Race, Racism, and Development: interrogating History, Discourse, and Practice*. London: Zed Books, 2013.
- Wynter, Sylvia. "No Humans Involved: an Open Letter to My Colleagues." *Forum NHI: Knowledge for the 21st Century* 1, 1 (1994): 42–70.

The African Union and the Institutionalisation of Pan-Africanism

Tim Murithi

Introduction

This chapter will argue the African Union (AU) is the latest institutional incarnation of the idea of Pan-Africanism. However, it will also interrogate how the AU has only had a limited degree of success in forging a Pan-African consciousness and identity, both within the continent and among the Diaspora around the world. The effective activation of a Pan-African consciousness and identity is a necessary precursor towards consolidating the gains of the last century in advancing the pursuit of African unity and solidarity. The chapter will begin with an examination of whether Pan-Africanism can serve as a conceptual framework for understanding the international relations of African countries. It will then enumerate the four pillars integral to reviving a latent and emerging Pan-African School of Thought.

The chapter will then assess whether we can consider the establishment of the African Union and its predecessor the Organisation of African Unity (OAU), as sequential institutional incarnations of the spirit of Pan-Africanism. This chapter will then assess the pitfalls of forging a Pan-African consciousness and identity. The chapter will conclude by identifying pathways to enhancing and consolidating a sense of Pan-Africanism among citizens across the continent and Diaspora.

Towards the revival of a Pan-African school of thought

Africa's place in the international system is emerging from one of relative obscurity and marginalisation to a status of increasing prominence. The emerging political prominence of the African continent on the world stage is predicated on an evolving internal process of continental integration. Specifically, the continent has undergone a significant trajectory in terms of its own Pan-African relations as well as its international relations, and is now emerging as a source, rather than a target, of analysis. In particular, there are normative and policy efforts to revive the spirit of Pan-Africanism. In normative terms, Pan-Africanism is the expression of this spirit of solidarity and cooperation among African countries and societies. The initial and primary aim of Pan-Africanism, encapsulated in the vision and mission of the Organisation of African Unity (OAU), was to end racial discrimination against people of African descent including those in the diaspora. In the twentieth century, Pan-Africanism was

postulated by African intellectuals, scholars, politicians and citizens as a necessary pre-requisite for creating the conditions that are vital to protect their right of Africans to take part and control their social, economic and political affairs and achieve peace and development. Consequently, the twenty-first century is witnessing the evolution of Pan-Africanism, notably through the constitution and establishment of the African Union (AU).

Pan-Africanism as a school of thought is not necessarily a unified or monolithic normative conceptual framework.¹ There are a wide range of sources which have underpinned and informed notions of Pan-Africanism. There are a number of unifying themes which are evident in the diverse conceptual approaches that cohesively form the four pillars of the Pan-African School of Thought, in particular, these include:

- i) a normative emphasis on adopting a trans-continental approach to framing and analysing political, economic and social processes in Africa;
- ii) an analysis predicated on the historical realities of the African continent;
- iii) a philosophical emphasis on the need for solidarity between Africans across the continent, as well as, descendants of the African heritage in other parts of the world;
- iv) a commitment towards improving the socio-economic livelihood of all Africans, including those in the diaspora, and confronting institutionalized forms of exploitation and repression where ever they exist, including confronting racism.

While these four pillars are by no means exhaustive, they provide the core parameters of academic Pan-Africanism, or what we can call the Pan-African School of Thought. Within these pillars the wide-ranging Pan-African School draws from a broad range of different political, social, historical, economic, geographical as well as cultural intellectual traditions and philosophical frameworks, to analyse intra-continental and international relations. The four pillars of the Pan-African School draw upon concepts and approaches emerging from African contexts, that are valid locally and also applicable across the continent. For example, Tiekue assesses the prevalence of the “solidarity norm” in Africa’s international relations, which illuminates our understanding of why, for example, African governments have a tendency to stand united in the face of international criticism of one of their own peers.² By referring to the persistence of

decades of crisis and mis-rule in Zimbabwe, Tiekue points out that analysts will fall short if they rely unduly on a “prism of individualism” to attempt to understand Africa’s statecraft and diplomatic brinksmanship.³ Tiekue argues that international relations theory can benefit from adopting a “collectivist worldview of interstate politics” in order to enhance its analytical toolkit utilised by scholars to deepen their understanding of the African continent.⁴

Along similar lines Moe undertakes a case study of Somalia in which he provides a critique of the liberal agenda and the “failed state” discourse that it advances. Specifically, Moe argues that “the dominant discourse on African statehood” has a “tendency to ignore or overlook the wider historical and global factors behind ‘state failure.’”⁵ The case of Somalia is particularly apt for demonstrating how a dogmatic approach to international relations and fundamentalist application of “conventional diplomatic procedures” to try to address what is a much more nuanced and complex conflict situation, can in fact undermine generating durable solutions.⁶ By examining how the reconciliation processes unfolded in Somaliland, situated to the north of Somalia, Moe illustrates how peace was established through local cultural governance traditions and not the reliance on a “revival of state structures.”⁷ Given the United Nations (UN) insistence on continuing to deploy these “conventional diplomatic procedures” in a blinkered and dogmatic fashion, the insights generated by Moe’s

analysis can in fact serve to educate the decision makers at the headquarters of the UN – in New York, Geneva and Nairobi – on how not to go about trying to project conceptually vacuous ideas and inappropriate models of statehood onto the African continent. Such intellectually mis-informed projects in these bastions of United Nations orthodoxy unfortunately have the effect of causing and perpetuating the death of African citizens, through their deployment of ineffective peace and stability strategies.

African union and the Organisation of African Unity (OAU) as institutionalisation of the spirit of Pan-Africanism

It is often assumed that the process of continental integration begun with an Extra-ordinary Summit of the Organisation of African Unity (OAU) convened in Sirte, Libya, in 1999. In fact, the process begun with the Pan-African movement and its demand for greater solidarity among the peoples of Africa. To understand the emergence of the African Union we need to understand the evolution of the Pan-African movement. A review of the objectives and aspirations of Pan-Africanism provides a foundation to critically assess the creation of the AU and its prospects for promoting the principles and norms of peace and development.

Historically Pan-Africanism, the perception by Africans in the diaspora and on the continent that they share common goals, has been expressed in different forms by various actors. There is no single definition of Pan-Africanism and in fact we can say that there are as many ideas about Pan-Africanism as there are thinkers of Pan-Africanism. Rather than being a unified school of thought, Pan-Africanism is more a movement which has as its common underlying theme the struggle for social and political equality and the freedom from economic exploitation and racial discrimination.

It is interesting to note that it is the global dispersal of peoples of African descent that is partly responsible for the emergence of the Pan-African movement. As Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, observe in their book *Pan-African History: Political Figures from Africa and the Diaspora Since 1787*, “Pan-Africanism has taken on different forms at different historical moments and geographical locations.”⁸ Adi and Sherwood note that, what underpins these different perspectives on Pan-Africanism is “the belief in some form of unity or of common purpose among the peoples of Africa and the African Diaspora.” One can also detect an emphasis on celebrating “Africaness,” resisting the exploitation and oppression of Africans and their kin in the Diaspora as well as a staunch opposition to the ideology of racial superiority in all its overt and covert guises.

Pan-Africanism is an invented notion.⁹ It is an invented notion with a purpose. We should therefore pose the question what is the *purpose* of Pan-Africanism? Essentially, Pan-Africanism is a recognition of the fragmented nature of the existence of Africans and their marginalization and alienation whether in their own continent or in the Diaspora. Pan-Africanism seeks to respond to Africa’s underdevelopment. Africa has been exploited and a culture of dependency on external assistance unfortunately still prevails on the continent. If people become too reliant on getting their support, their nourishment, their safety, from outside sources, then they do not strive to find the power within themselves to rely on their own capacities. Pan-Africanism calls upon Africans to drawn from their own strength and capacities and become self-reliant.

Pan-Africanism is a recognition that Africans, and their descendants in the Diaspora, have been divided among themselves. They are constantly in competition among themselves, deprived of the true ownership of their own resources and inundated by paternalistic external actors with ideas about what is “good.” Modern day paternalism is more

sophisticated and dresses itself up as a kind and gentle helping hand with benign and benevolent intentions. In reality it seeks to maintain a “master-servant” relationship and does not really want to see the genuine empowerment and independence of thought in Africa. The net effect of this is to dis-empower Africans from deciding for themselves the best way to deal with the problems and issues they are facing. Pan-Africanism is a recognition that the only way out of this existential, social, political crisis is by promoting greater solidarity amongst Africans and the Diaspora. Genuine dialogue and debate in Africa will not always generate consensus, but at least it will be dialogue among Africans about how they might resolve their problems. If ideas are not designed by the Africans, then rarely can they be in the interests of Africans.

The first and second phase of the institutionalisation of Pan-Africanism: the Organisation of African Unity (OAU)

The idea of Pan-Africanism, which had already been articulated in the nineteenth century, took an institutional form in the twentieth century. Initially, the first phase of the institutionalisation of this idea was embodied in the convening of the series of Pan-African Congress meetings, which were held early in the twentieth century, in the United States of America and the United Kingdom, under the leadership of activists like the African-American academic and thinker W.E.B. Du Bois; the Trinidadian Henry Sylvester Williams; and inspired often by the ideas of activist-leaders like the Jamaican-American Marcus Garvey. These ideas were adopted and reformed by continental African leaders in the middle of the twentieth century. Kwame Nkrumah who later became the first president of Ghana, Sekou Toure of Guinea, Leopold Senghor of Senegal, Banar Abdel Nasser of Egypt, Ali Ben Bella of Algeria, built upon the momentum and foundations laid by Du Bois and colleagues, and advanced the idea of Pan-Africanism into the second phase of its institutionalisation, when on 25 May 1963 they co-created the Organisation of African Unity (OAU).¹⁰ The principles of the OAU kept the spirit of Pan-Africanism alive. The primary objective of this principle was to continue the tradition of solidarity and cooperation among Africans.

During the era of the OAU the key challenge was colonialism. Since 1885, in what was then known as the “Scramble for Africa” European colonial powers had colonized African peoples and communities across the entire continent. The Belgians were in the Congo, the British in East, South, West and North Africa. The French in West Africa, Somalia, Algeria and other parts of north Africa. The Italians in Somalia. The Germans, who later lost their colonies following their defeat in the Second World War, had to relinquish Namibia and modern day Tanzania. Africans had successfully fought on the side of the allies in the Second World War and after its conclusion they brought their struggle for independence back home to Africa.

The OAU embraced the principle of Pan-Africanism and undertook the challenge of liberating all African countries from the grip of settler colonialism. The main principle that it was trying to promote was to end racial discrimination upon which colonialism with its doctrine of racial superiority was based. In addition, the OAU sought to assert the right of Africans to control their social, economic and political affairs and achieve the freedom necessary to consolidate peace and development. The OAU succeeded in its primary mission, with the help of international actors, in liberating the continent on 27 April 1994, when a new government based on one-person-one-vote came into being in South Africa under the leadership of Nelson Mandela. The OAU however was not as effective in monitoring and policing the affairs of its own Member States when it came to the issues of violent conflict;

political corruption; economic mismanagement; poor governance; lack of human rights; lack of gender equality; and poverty eradication.

The preamble of the OAU Charter of 1963 outlined a commitment by member states to collectively establish, maintain and sustain the “human conditions for peace and security.”¹¹ However, in parallel, the same OAU Charter contained the provision to “defend the sovereignty, territorial integrity and independence of the member states.”¹² This was later translated into the norm of non-intervention. The key organs of the OAU – the council of ministers and the Assembly of heads of state and government – could only intervene in a conflict situation if they were invited by the parties to a dispute. Many intra-state disputes were viewed, at the time, as internal matters and the exclusive preserve of governments is concerned.

The OAU created a Mechanism for Conflict Prevention, Management and Resolution in Cairo, in June 1993. This instrument was ineffective in resolving disputes on the continent. Tragically, the Rwandan genocide which was initiated in April 1994 happened while this mechanism was operational. It was also during this last decade of the twentieth century that the conflict in Somalia led to the collapse of the state and the violence in Sierra Leone, Liberia, Angola, the Democratic Republic of the Congo (DRC) and Sudan led to the death of millions of Africans. These devastating events illustrated the limitations of the OAU as an institution that could implement the norms and principles that it articulated. Despite the existence of the OAU’s mechanisms for conflict prevention and management, the Rwandan tragedy demonstrated the virtual impotence of the OAU in the face of violent conflict within its member states. The United Nations (UN) did not fare any better, as all of its troops, except the Ghanaian contingent, pulled out of the country leaving its people to the fate. Subsequently, both the OAU and the UN issued reports acknowledging their failures.¹³ The impetus for the adoption of a new paradigm in the promotion of peace and security in the African continent emerged following the Rwandan tragedy.

Regrettably due to the doctrine of non-intervention, the OAU became a silent observer to the atrocities being committed by some of its member states. Eventually, a culture of impunity and indifference became entrenched in the international relations of African countries during the era of the “proxy” wars of the Cold War. In effect, the OAU was a toothless talking shop. The OAU was perceived as a club of African Heads of States, most of whom were not legitimately elected representatives of their own citizens but self-appointed dictators and oligarchs. This negative perception informed people’s attitude towards the OAU. It was viewed as an Organization that existed without having a genuine impact on the daily lives of Africans.

The third phase of the institutionalisation of Pan-Africanism: the African Union (AU)

The African Union came into existence in July 2002, in Durban, South Africa. It was supposed to usher Africa into a new era of continental integration leading to a deeper unity and a resolution of its problems. The evolution of the AU from the Organisation of African Unity was visionary and timely. The OAU had failed to live up to all of its norms and principles. Africa at the time of the demise of the OAU was a continent that was virtually imploding from within due to the pressures of conflict, poverty and underdevelopment and public health crisis like malaria, tuberculosis and HIV/AIDS. The OAU effectively died of a cancer of inefficiency because it basically had not lived up to its original ideals of promoting peace, security and development in Africa. The African Union has emerged as

a homegrown initiative to effectively take the destiny of the continent into the hands of the African people. However, there is a long way to go before the AU's vision and mission is realised.

The AU is composed of 55 member states. It is coordinated by the AU Commission based in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia. The Chairperson of the Commission is Moussa Faki Mahamat from Chad, and his Deputy Chairperson is Ambassador Kwesi Quartey from Ghana. The African Union's highest decision making organ is the Assembly of the Heads of State and Government, its executive decision-making organ is the Executive Council of Ministers, who work closely with the Permanent Representatives Committee of Ambassadors in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia. The AU has also established a range of institutions which will be discussed further on.

If we know the "purpose" of Pan-Africanism, then the steps to achieve its goals become clearer to understand. It is in this context that we can begin to understand the emergence of the African Union.

It would be a mistake to view the African Union as an aberration that just emerged in the last few years. It would be more appropriate to view the AU as only the latest incarnation of the idea of Pan-Africanism. The first phase of the institutionalization of Pan-Africanism was the Pan-African Congress' that were held from the end of the nineteenth century and into the beginning of the twentieth century. The second phase of the institutionalization of Pan-Africanism was the inauguration of the Organization of African Unity. The third phase of the institutionalization of Pan-Africanism is in effect the creation of the African Union. It will not be the last phase. Subsequent phases and organizations will bring about ever closer political, economic and social ties among African peoples. African unity is an idea that can be traced back to the nineteenth century. The African Union is a twenty-first century expression of a nineteenth century idea. As such it is an imperfect expression, but nevertheless the best expression of Pan-Africanism that can be brought forth at this time.

The still-born agenda to forge a union government of Africa?

The agenda to establish a Union Government of Africa, or the so-called Union Government of Africa (UGA) gathered pace in the first decade of the twenty-first century. At the core of this debate is the desire to create a continental government and several ministerial portfolios for the African Union. During the 4th Ordinary Session of the Assembly of Heads of State and Government, from 30 to 31 January 2005, in Abuja, Nigeria, the AU agreed to the proposals made by the Libyan Government to establish ministerial portfolios for the organisation. Specifically, in the 6th Ordinary Session of the Executive Council of AU Ministers, Libya proposed the establishment of the posts of Minister of Transport and Communications to unify transportation in Member States to be under the competence of the AU which will include airports and main ports of African capital cities, highways, inter-State railways, State-owned airline companies which are to become the basis for a single African airline company.¹⁴ Ultimately, Libya proposed that this should lead to "the creation of a post of Minister of Transportation and Communications."¹⁵ Similarly, Libya also proposed the creation of the post of Minister of Defence to oversee "a joint policy on defence and security of the Union and provide for the reinforcement of peace, security and stability on the continent."¹⁶ This Libyan proposal noted that the provisions of the AU *Constitutive Act*, of 2000, and the *Protocol on the Establishment of a Peace and Security Council of the African Union*, of 2002, have effectively established a "Joint Defence Framework."¹⁷ As a logical step in the implementation of the Protocols and establishment of the institutions of the AU the Libyan

proposal emphasized the importance of establishing this post to oversee and “defend the security of Member States against any foreign aggression and to achieve internal security and stability.”¹⁸ In addition, Libya also proposed the establishment of the post of an African Union Minister of Foreign Affairs. Central to its argument is that AU countries undermine their own influence when its 53 Foreign Ministers, each individually representing their own governments speak simultaneously and occasionally in contradiction with each other. The Libyan proposal notes that this post is necessary in order to expedite “the Continent’s political, economic and social integration and to reinforce and defend unified African positions on issues of mutual interest” in the international sphere.¹⁹

In order to respond to these proposals the AU Assembly decided to “set up a Committee of Heads of State and Government chaired by the President of the Republic of Uganda and composed of Botswana, Chad, Ethiopia, Niger, Senegal and Tunisia” to liaise with the Chairperson of the AU Commission to submit a report by the next summit in July 2005.²⁰ The Committee convened in a conference under the theme “Desirability of a Union Government of Africa.” This meeting included members of the Committee, representatives of the Regional Economic Communities (RECs), technical experts, academics, civil society and Diaspora representatives, as well as the media. The conference came up with three key conclusions including the:

- i) recognition that the necessity of an AU Government is not in doubt;
- ii) acceptance that such a Union must be of the African people and not merely a Union of States and governments and its creation must come about through the principle of gradual incrementalism; and
- iii) recognition that the role of the RECs should be highlighted as building blocks for the continental framework.²¹

Following the submission of this report the Assembly reaffirmed “that the ultimate goal of the African Union is full political and economic integration leading to a United States of Africa.”²² The Assembly further established a Committee of Heads of State and Government to be chaired by President Olusegun Obasanjo, Chairperson of the African Union, and composed of the Heads of State and Government of Algeria, Kenya, Senegal, Gabon, Lesotho and Uganda. More specifically, the Assembly requested the Committee to consider the steps that need to be taken for the realization of this objective, the structure, the process, the time frame required for its achievement as well as measures that should be undertaken, in the meantime, to strengthen the ability of the Commission to fulfil its mandate effectively.²³ Ultimately, this initiative to forge a Union Government of Africa stagnated due to the fact that African leaders held competing visions of the end-goal of continental integration.

AU reforms and the prospects for activating Pan-Africanism

In January 2017, to mark the fifteenth year since the organisation was formally launched, the AU Assembly of Heads of State and Government adopted a report entitled: *The Imperative to Strengthen our Union: Report on the Proposed Recommendations for the Institutional Reform of the African Union*.²⁴ This report was compiled by President Paul Kagame of Rwanda, with the collaboration of a panel of senior African states women and men, in response to a decision “on the need to conduct a study on the institutional reform of the African Union” the which emerged from a Retreat of Heads of State and Government, Ministers of Foreign Affairs and Ministers of Finance, which was held in Kigali, Rwanda, on 16 July 2017.²⁵ The

Kagame Panel Report observed that “as unprecedented challenges multiply and spread across the globe at a dizzying pace, new vulnerabilities are increasingly laid bare, in rich and poor nations alike.”²⁶ In particular, the Report identifies a number of issues including “climate change, violent extremist ideologies, disease pandemics, or mass migration” as among some of the key issues that urgently need to be addressed “by focused and effective regional organisations.”²⁷ The Kagame Panel Report laments that “the unfortunate truth is that Africa today is ill-prepared to adequately respond to current events, because *the African Union still has to be made fit for purpose*.”²⁸ This is a forthright and honest appraisal of the state of the African Union fifteen years after it was launched with much fanfare and great expectations in 2002, in Durban, South Africa.

Activating Pan-Africanism will require addressing AU’s internal challenges with a view to determining how it can enhance its governance processes, so that it can become “fit for purpose” in addressing the continent’s challenges, as well as in strengthening Africa’s assertiveness in the international sphere. In March 2017, Moussa Faki Mahamat, the Chairperson of the AU Commission, and his team of Commissioner’s committed to approaching their historical mission at the AU with a degree of pragmatism about the constraints and possibilities that they face. Specifically, on 14th March 2017, during his first public address as the AU Commission Chairperson, Moussa Faki, outlined six priorities including the need “to reform the structures” of the organisation to make it “a tool capable of translating into reality the vision of our leaders and aspirations of our peoples.”²⁹ In addition, Moussa Faki emphasised the need to address the continent’s conflicts and enhance the participation of women and young people in promoting peace, development and the revival of the continent. Moussa Faki also identified the promotion of economic integration with a specific focus on “increasing inter-African trade and free movement of people so that Africans can finally cease to be foreigners in their own continent.” He argued for the revitalisation of the Africa’s private sector in order to enhance wealth and job creation and for strengthening Africa’s engagement in international relations.

The pitfalls of forging a Pan-African consciousness and identity

The African continent is afflicted by a crisis of identity and is still plagued by deep seated euro-centric civilizational agendas, which infiltrated and were un-critically adopted by a sector of Africa’s political and economic elite to frame the governance and socio-economic systems of their countries. In fact, the majority of African countries are more aptly defined by the degree of colonial continuity. This persistence of the colonial logic particularly evident in the state-centric systems of governance that dominate the African landscape, as well as in the adoption of neo-liberal economic models which have fed the external extractive agenda, and singularly failed to ensure a distributive processes that can improve the livelihood of the majority of people on the continent. This trend was presciently predicted by the Martinique author and Pan-Africanist, Frantz Fanon, in a chapter entitled: *The Pitfalls of National Consciousness*, which featured in his pioneering book *The Wretched of the Earth* (Les Damnés de la Terre), which was published at the onset of the process of de-colonisation in the early 1960s.³⁰ This phenomenon of colonial continuity is a hindrance, but not an insurmountable obstacle, to forging a Pan-African consciousness and identity. In fact, as the AU approaches two decades of its existence, and as the US-designed liberal international order undergoes a period of existential crisis and fragmentation, there is a significant window of opportunity for the African continent to assume the responsibilities of its self-determination and self-actualization, by redefining its governance and economic models to

ensure that it creates functional polities across the continent, which will respond to the basic needs of their people in terms of peace, security, accountability and improved livelihood.

Africa's leadership deficit

To a large extent, efforts to ensure sustainable peace, security, governance and development in Africa have always been undermined by the dominant international and geo-political agendas of the day. After colonialism, it was the Cold War; and in the post-Cold War world the pressures of globalisation are impacting on Africa's peace and development efforts. However, the continent's ability and capacity to promote peace have also been undermined by Africa's leaders and their failure to find ways to address their differences and hold one another accountable. Africa's leadership deficit leaves the continent extremely vulnerable to internal fissures and external penetration and exploitation. For example, the fuel that adds to the flame of conflict in Africa is the role that globalisation plays in perpetuating and sustaining wars. The biggest challenge in trying to resolve disputes in Africa is to effectively deal with the role of international actors in fuelling conflict. Africa's experience with misrule is evident in the willingness of the continent's so-called leaders to collude with foreign governments and trans-national corporations to extract mineral resources, and these resources are being used to finance endless wars and withhold health, educational and infrastructural services to the continent's citizens. Examples of this include multi-national oil companies extracting oil and gas from South Sudan, Angola and Mozambique; global diamond cartels excavating in Zimbabwe and Congo-Brazzaville; timber conglomerates culling and extracting trees in Sierra Leone and Liberia; and industrial giants extracting copper, chromium and coltan from the Democratic Republic of the Congo (DRC) and the Central African Republic (CAR). Africa's leadership deficit is evident in this continued collusion with these global predators. The issue of whether these natural resources are exploited by a corrupt government that is often not legitimate, or by a militarized group, adds fuel to the fire of autocracy and conflict and feeds into illegal trading of small arms and drug-dealing networks that make the situation difficult for one country to control or manage by itself. This reality has been made possible or easier by the emerging global networks of trade and instant financial transactions that allow the ability to shift huge amounts of capital at the click of a button to offshore accounts beyond the investigative reach of unsuspecting citizens and civil society organisations, as has now been revealed by the infamous Panama Papers. Private military companies, or what were once called "mercenaries," flourish in this new environment and can operate undetected and unidentified. The first order of protection of the interests of African citizens has to be its leaders. The inverse remains the case across the continent as leaders connive with insidious external actors.

Pathways to forging a Pan-African consciousness among citizens and the diaspora

The point is that the promotion of peace, security and development in Africa is no longer the task of an individual leader or nation-state, in the context of globalisation. This is at the very least a continent-wide challenge which will require forging a Pan-African consciousness among its citizens as well as the Diaspora. At the very most, it is a global responsibility that implicates the citizens and governments where these multi-national companies are registered, specifically in Europe, America, China, Russia and India, which make profits from the exploitation and misery of people in war-affected and under-developed parts of Africa. This

continental responsibility also invokes the need for active Pan-African citizenship in confronting these corrupt practices where they persist, and for holding Africa's so-called leaders to account through the self-ascribed promotion of "Civic Pan-Africanism" as a vehicle to mobilize continent-wide leadership across the continent, which will build solidarity networks with other societal actors from around the world.

The AU inherited a cumbersome bureaucracy from its predecessor, the Organisation of African Unity (OAU), which it has struggled to transcend. Consequently, there are remnants of the "OAU way" of doing things that continue to hamper the AU in its daily management and administrative processes. These archaic management practices that foster attitudes of territoriality in the control and distribution of service provision goods across the AU, which undermines its ability to be effective and to win the hearts and minds of citizens across the continent and forge a sense of Pan-African identity. Consequently, improving the AU's internal systems is a necessary pathway to achieving the objectives of Pan-Africanism.

The AU has a central role in promoting and advancing the operationalisation of the African Continental Free Trade Area (AfCTA), which was formally established in 2019. This development will be vital in increasing intra-African trade and opening up the continent to the free movement of people through the issuing of a continent-wide African Union Passport, which has only been granted to heads of state, ministers and ambassadors. It is vital for African citizens to also obtain their AU Passports in the shortest time possible, so that the cross-border interactions can increase and contribute towards fostering a sense of Pan-Africanism. In addition, the private sector in Africa can take advantage of the AU Passport to foster entrepreneurship and development of businesses in order to draw more Africans, particularly the youth, into the workforce. Consequently, the AU is in a unique position to act as a catalyst for supporting the processes geared towards enhancing Pan-African entrepreneurship by establishing coherent policy frameworks and holding its member states to account for upholding the principles of integrity in guiding their societies towards improved livelihoods.

The state-centric approach to dealing with crisis in Africa is short-sighted, anachronistic and self-defeating. Political violence has real spill-over effects to neighbouring countries, and armed militia that are resisting the authority of a particular state are inevitably camped out in neighbouring countries, illustrating the inefficacy of dealing with "national" crises. There is a need to adopt a regional lens when promoting peace, security and governance, whether it be in the Horn of Africa, the Great Lakes region, the Mano River Union, or the Sahel. On this basis, the notion of "regional reconciliation" is an important framework through which the nexus between security, governance and development can be enhanced and further elaborated.³¹ The idea is that crises are addressed through regional forums that bring together the leaders of neighbouring states to address a particular crisis in a formal setting, this will also contribute towards forging a Pan-African consciousness and identity. By extension this calls for government-to-government collaboration at a regional level, to complement the people-to-people interventions that are already common in situations such as the one in the eastern DRC. The African Union can provide the overall framework through which its departments and agencies can co-jointly pursue early warning, early intervention, peacekeeping, peacebuilding, reconciliation and development to ensure that the phenomenon of cyclical violence is once and for all expunged from the continent of Africa, as a pathway to fostering the spirit of Pan-African unity.

Conclusion

This chapter argued that the African Union is the latest incarnation of the phenomenon of Pan-Africanism, which can be traced to ideas articulated in the nineteenth century and

before. However, African continental integration is not yet a concrete reality and remains a promise to be fulfilled. As the AU approaches two decades of its existence, the key challenge will be to sustain the momentum for constant change and improvement.

In terms of security and governance, the interventionist stance adopted by the African Union in its past two decades is an appropriate posture for the continent going forward. African conflict situations cannot be allowed to escalate, because they will continue to have a much more destructive effect on their people and citizens of neighbouring states. Consequently, there is a need for the notion of regional reconciliation to gain currency, anchored by deepening collaboration between the AU, its institutions, and its partners, if these cyclical conflicts are to be extinguished permanently. The advent of a more pronounced synergy in effect serves to re-define the processes of peace, security, governance and trade in Africa. The security and governance of one can only be achieved by ensuring the security and governance of all. Every African is every other African's keeper, which reaffirms the notion of Pan-African solidarity. Without a genuine commitment across the entire AU system to facilitate and enable synergy, the pursuit of the Pan-African vision of a peaceful and prosperous continent will remain an elusive aspiration.

Historically, the continental ability and capacity to advance its interests has also been undermined by the lack of political will among African leaders to find ways to address their differences and collectively solve their problems. However, increasingly the African continent is emerging as a vocal, and in some respects an influential, actor in international relations and in addressing global challenges. This chapter has demonstrated how the African Union is the latest institutional incarnation of the idea of Pan-Africanism. However, the challenge going forward will be the need to activate a Pan-African consciousness and forge a Pan-African identity which is a requisite to fulfilling the hope and aspirations of Africans across the continent and in the Diaspora around the world.

Notes

- 1 For an extended discussion see, Timothy Murithi, *The African Union: Pan-Africanism, Peacebuilding and Development*, (Aldershot: Ashgate, 2005).
- 2 Thomas Tieku, "Collectivist Worldview: Its Challenge to International Relations," in Scarlett Cornelissen, Fantu Cheru and Timothy Shaw (eds), *Africa's International Relations in the twenty-first Century*, (London: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), pp.36–50.
- 3 Tieku, "Collectivist Worldview: Its Challenge to International Relations," p.36.
- 4 Tieku, "Collectivist Worldview: Its Challenge to International Relations," p.40.
- 5 Louise Moe, "Towards New Approaches to Statehood and Governance-Building in Africa: The Somali Crisis Reconsidered," in Scarlett Cornelissen, Fantu Cheru and Timothy Shaw (eds), *Africa's International Relations in the twenty-first Century*, (London: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), p.87.
- 6 Moe, "Towards New Approaches to Statehood and Governance-Building in Africa: The Somali Crisis Reconsidered," p.94.
- 7 Moe, "Towards New Approaches to Statehood and Governance-Building in Africa: The Somali Crisis Reconsidered," p.97.
- 8 Hakim Adi and Marika Sherwood, *Pan-African History: Political Figures from African and the Diaspora Since 1787*, London: Routledge, 2003, p.vii.
- 9 Timothy Murithi, *The African Union: Pan-Africanism, Peacebuilding and Development*, (Aldershot, England: Ashgate Publishing Ltd., 2005).
- 10 Organisation of African Unity, *Charter of the Organisation of African Unity*, (Addis Ababa: OAU, 1963).
- 11 Solomon Gomes, "The Peacemaking and Mediation Role of the OAU and AU: What Prospects?," Paper submitted to the Centre for Conflict Resolution (CCR) policy seminar, *Building an African Union (AU) for the twenty-first Century*, Cape Town, South Africa, 20–22 August 2005.

- 12 Organisation of African Unity, *Charter of the Organisation of African Unity*, (Addis Ababa: OAU, 1963).
- 13 Organisation of African Unity, *Rwanda: The Preventable Genocide*, A Report by an International Panel of Eminent Personalities, Addis Ababa: Organisation of African Unity, 2000; and United Nations, Report of the Independent Inquiry into the Actions of the United Nations during the 1994 genocide in Rwanda, New York: United Nations, 1999.
- 14 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of Transport and Communications (Item Proposed by the Great Libyan Arab Jamahiriya)*, Executive Council 6th Ordinary Session, EX.CL/165(VI) Add.5, Abuja, Nigeria, 24–28 January 2005, p. 1.
- 15 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of Transport and Communications*, p.1.
- 16 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of Defence (Item Proposed by the Great Libyan Arab Jamahiriya)*, Executive Council 6th Ordinary Session, EX.CL/165(VI) Add.6, Abuja, Nigeria, 24–28 January 2005, p. 1.
- 17 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of Defence*, p.1.
- 18 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of Defence*, p.1.
- 19 African Union, *Establishment of a Post of Minister of AU Minister of Foreign Affairs (Item Proposed by the Great Libyan Arab Jamahiriya)*, Executive Council 6th Ordinary Session, EX.CL/165(VI) Add.7, Abuja, Nigeria, 24–28 January 2005, p. 1.
- 20 African Union, *Decisions and Declarations*, Assembly of the African Union, 4th Ordinary Session, Assembly/AU/Dec.69(IV), Assembly/AU/5 (IV) Add.1–5, Abuja, Nigeria, 30–31 January 2005.
- 21 African Union, *Decisions and Declarations*, Assembly of the African Union, 4th Ordinary Session, Assembly/AU/Dec.69(IV), Assembly/AU/5 (IV) Add.1–5, Abuja, Nigeria, 30–31 January 2005.
- 22 African Union, *Decision on the Report of the Committee of Seven Heads of State and Government Chaired by the President of the Republic of Uganda on the Proposals of the Great Socialist People's Libyan Arab Jamahiriya*, Assembly/AU/Dec.90(V), 5th Ordinary Session, Sirte, Libya, 4–5 July 2005.
- 23 African Union, *Decision on the Report of the Committee of Seven Heads of State and Government*, 5th Ordinary Session, paragraph 5.
- 24 Paul Kagame, *The Imperative to Strengthen our Union: Report on the Proposed Recommendations for the Institutional Reform of the African Union*, Addis Ababa, 29 January 2017.
- 25 African Union, *Decision on the Institutional Reform of the African Union*, Assembly/AU/Dec.606 (XXVII), Retreat of Heads of State and Government, Ministers of Foreign Affairs and Ministers of Finance, Kigali, Rwanda, 16 July 2017, p.1.
- 26 Kagame, *The Imperative to Strengthen our Union*, p.1.
- 27 Kagame, *The Imperative to Strengthen our Union*, p.1.
- 28 Kagame, *The Imperative to Strengthen our Union*, p.1.
- 29 Moussa Faki Mahamat, *The African Union Commission Priorities*, Addis Ababa, 14 March 2017, www.au.int, accessed 20 June 2017.
- 30 Frantz Fanon, *The Wretched of the Earth*, (London: Penguin, 1967), pp.119–167.
- 31 Tim Murithi, *Regional Reconciliation in Africa: The Elusive Dimension of Peace and Security*, (Uppsala: Nordic Africa Institute, 2019).

Part V

Literary Pan-Africanism



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

The History of Literary Pan-Africanism

Overview/survey essay

Christel N. Temple

A successful overview of the idea formation of literary Pan-Africanism benefits most from a bibliographic essay approach, which reinforces our awareness of the language, critical contexts, revisionist discourses, titles, and debates that sustain the vibrancy of the concept. Scholars have explored literary Pan-Africanism's possibilities and manifestations in literature, aesthetic movements, literary criticism, literary history, socio-political thought, and historical analysis representing diverse regions of Africa and the Diaspora.

In charting the evolution of literary Pan-Africanism as a twentieth and twenty-first century critical idea, a curiosity is that literary Pan-Africanism received an early mention in the May 1, 1966 edition of *Africa Report*. Ellen Kennedy and Paulette J. Trout prepared a brief report on "The Roots of Negritude" in which they narrate how Pan-African world delegates at the 1963 summit "found themselves debating the merits of negritude as the conceptual key to literary Pan-Africanism and to Negro cultural unity the world over."¹ However, this archival source is obscure and barely referenced as an original source in any of the literary criticism.

Jamaican historian Robert A. Hill provides the next major phrasing of "literary Pan-Africanism" that has become a noted point of reference. Hill compiled and edited Harlem Renaissance writer George S. Schuyler's *Ethiopian Stories* (1994), which includes Schuyler's two novellas—*The Ethiopian Murder Mystery: A Story of Love and International Intrigue* and *Revolt in Ethiopia: A Tale of Black Insurrection Against Italian Imperialism*. In Hill's narration, the novellas "demonstrate his imaginative ability to describe for a popular audience the deep psychological and ideological investment that African Americans had in the outcome of Ethiopia's heroic struggle against the Italian invaders."² Hill's use of the description "literary Pan-Africanism" bookends the untitled Introduction to *Ethiopian Stories*, with only two references. Early in the Introduction, he observes that the collection "belongs to the genre of literary Pan-Africanism," and he relies on the ideas of Elisabeth Mudimbe-Boyi for context, associating literary Pan-Africanism with "a literary history, textual analysis, and commentaries that, thus, can keep alive these contexts and topical worlds in different times and contexts."³ Here, according to Hill, literary Pan-Africanism is a *genre* that dates back to the Harlem Renaissance period of creative transnational themes. Mudimbe-Boyi does not use the description "literary Pan-Africanism," but her discourse in the essay "Harlem Renaissance

and Africa: An Ambiguous Adventure,” within the volume *The Surreptitious Speech: Presence Africaine and the Politics of Otherness, 1947–1987* (1992) edited by V. Y. Mudimbe provides a comprehensive view of how Harlem Renaissance writers participated in Pan-African engagements of the era. Hill’s second and final use of the phrasing “literary Pan-Africanism” is an historical reference. He writes, “The literary Pan-Africanism connoted by Schuyler’s *Ethiopian Stories* finds an interesting parallel in the writings and activities of two of the remarkable Pan-African figures of the thirties: J. A. Rogers and George Padmore” both of whom were Schuyler’s colleagues.⁴ Rogers worked with Schuyler for the *Pittsburgh Courier* and Padmore’s influence was based on his and Schuyler’s common interest in Communism.

Hill’s Introduction to *Ethiopian Stories* is untitled, but during the same year as the book was published—1994—he reproduced it as a published article in *South Asia Bulletin* (*Comparative Studies of South Asia, Africa, and the Middle East*) as “*Ethiopian Stories: George S. Schuyler and Literary Pan-Africanism in the 1930s*.” In the repertoire of key works on literary Pan-Africanism, Hill’s essay frames a literary history about how Africa appears in the literature and worldview of writers of the Harlem Renaissance. Also, he links this history to Schuyler’s and Rogers’s journalistic prowess and to Schuyler’s acute literary representation of Ethiopian characters’ voices and perspectives on African American exceptionalism and mutual relationships between African Americans and Ethiopians. Hill credits Schuyler’s “political commitment during the 1930s” as an example of a little-acknowledged literary genre of literary Pan-Africanism during the Harlem Renaissance era.⁵

Hill’s version of literary Pan-Africanism has influenced several works. Neelam Srivastava has a chapter on “Harlem’s Ethiopia: Literary Pan-Africanism and the Italian Invasion” in his book *Italian Colonialism and Resistances to Empire* (2018) that features a reading of Hill’s version of literary Pan-Africanism. Srivastava seeks to locate and analyze how Diaspora visionaries and writers such as C. L. R. James in *The Black Jacobins* (1938), Claude McKay in *Amiable With Big Teeth: A Novel of the Love Affair between the Communists and the Poor Black Sheep* (1941), and Schuyler in *Ethiopian Stories*, treat the subjects of African American transnational political mobilization and the Ethiopian-Italian conflict. Christian Høgsbjerg’s essay “Rufus E. Fennell: A Literary Pan-Africanist in Britain” (2014) also relies on Hill’s version of literary Pan-Africanism. Fennell, possibly a Caribbean-American migrant to Britain, was an actor and a contemporary of Paul Robeson and wrote a Haiti-themed screenplay for Robeson, entitled *The Prophet*. Reference to Hill’s ideation also appears in Christine Matzke’s and Susanne Muehleisen’s Introduction to *Postcolonial Postmortems: Crime Fiction from a Transcultural Perspective* (2006). Here, they summarize contributor A. B. Christa Schwarz’s chapter in the collection which credits George Schuyler’s novella *The Ethiopian Murder Mystery* as “his own brand of literary Pan-Africanism which was unlike the romanticized philosophies of ‘shared roots and black global brotherhood’ prevalent at the time.”⁶ Schwarz contends that Schuyler’s shift away from earlier radical perspectives that denied commonalities between African American and Africans is, in this novella, a surprising acknowledgment of kinship.⁷ There is additional speculation about what the discrepancy means.

One of the most intriguing significations on ideas found in Hill’s early approach to literary Pan-Africanism is Ahmad Rahman’s analysis of Schuyler, Kwame Nkrumah, and literary Pan-Africanism in *The Regime Change of Kwame Nkrumah: Epic Heroism in Africa and the Diaspora* (2017). Rahman makes two salient points. First, he suggests,

The serialized stories of George Schuyler were most directly useful to Nkrumah for the production of what Jones-Quartey described as the national myth of Africa. The

conventional wisdom of most Nkrumah biographers holds that it was Nkrumah's own studies of Marcus Garvey and the socialist ideology that laid the foundations for his later ideals. Nevertheless, the likely role of George Schuyler's serialized writings in the *Pittsburgh Courier* should receive its proper place. At Lincoln, Schuyler's literary Pan-Africanism must have struck Nkrumah as a godsend.⁸

Rahman's deduction is enlightening, but his second feat is reconciling Schuyler's inconsistency in giving himself a conservative legacy through his autobiography that opposes his 1930s presentation of a literature on African world kinship. Rahman explains that Schuyler's autobiography, *Black and Conservative* (1966),

did not mention the *Courier* series. His autobiography was highly detailed because he, evidently, viewed most moments of his life as significant. One probable reason for his not mentioning his literary Pan-Africanism was that he argued against the very positions he took in "Black Empire" and "The Black Internationale" throughout his autobiography. Hence, it is the conclusion of this writer that Schuyler wrote these two serials purely for profit. Schuyler wrote for a living and had to cater to what was popular in Black America to continue to make a living.⁹

If Rahman's contention is true, then an update to Hill's version of Pan-Africanism, though still reflective of the corpus of Harlem Renaissance work that was attentive to Africa, would exclude Schuyler as one of the most authentic voices whose transnational imaginings support the most sustained early descriptions of literary Pan-Africanism. He concludes, "Schuyler wrote Pan-Africanist serials for his black readers because he was an intellectual entrepreneur. Like a vegetarian selling meat, he peddled what the market demanded, even though he would never personally consume the product he sold."¹⁰ Rahman's hunch about Schuyler is a blow, while Schwarz has described Schuyler's change of perspective as a "surprise."¹¹

The book *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism* (2005) by Christel N. Temple presented tools to help decipher how Pan-Africanism appears in creative and stylized literature. The research, explicitly on "literary Pan-Africanism," appeared in her 1999 dissertation.¹² Philosophically, it advances Pan-Africanism and anti-imperialism as foundations to explore tensions and fissures implied by South African Ezekiel Mphahlele's 1976 contention that Africans have no psychological need to connect with African Americans.¹³ In surveying the historical, cultural, and literary routes through which Africans learned about the African American worldview sufficiently enough to begin to explore literary characterizations of African Americans in their works, this study revealed that Ghanaian and Nigerian writers had come to terms with the philosophical need to reconcile separation. It seems they processed the subtleties and contradictions inherent in "the African vision of the African American experience" as a literary trope as early as the 1960s, for approximately three decades ranging from the mid-1960s through the mid-1990s.

As a seminal book-length study on the phenomenon, *Literary Pan-Africanism* acknowledges that there are many frames of reference for multidirectional relationships of cooperation and mutual heritage identification in the African world. The work compares the intersections of African and African American experiences only, however, it is also an invitation, for "African-centered scholars [to] add to this effort by identifying additional texts that belong in this category. For future studies, the format of this inquiry can be applied to comparative analyses of the history and literature of other regions of Africa and the diaspora."¹⁴ Temple covers hundreds of years of possible exposures and exchanges between Africans, Europeans, and

African Americans that suggest a communicative line—whether true, speculative, stereotyped, and/or romanticized. In terms of literary criticism, Temple merges worldview markers from the Nzuri model of African aesthetics created by Kariamu Welsh-Asante, Chudi Amuta's anti-imperialist literary paradigm based on ideas of Amílcar Cabral, and St. Clair Drake's Pan-African vision. The four key African writers central to the book's second half on literary criticism—Nigerian Wole Soyinka and Ghanaians Ama Ata Aidoo, Kofi Awoonor, and Ayi Kwei Armah—meet Drake's expectation that "The postwar return should be the subject of diaspora studies, and African scholars should take on the task of evaluating the impact."¹⁵

In terms of firsts, Nobel Literature Laureate (1986) Wole Soyinka offers the earliest sustained treatment of an African American character in African literature with the creation of Joe Golder in *The Interpreters* (1965). Temple addresses Soyinka's repertoire with an interest in "Truth or Satire: Wole Soyinka and Black America."¹⁶ Golder is a mix of unfavorable stereotypes, but Soyinka more thoughtfully expanded his vision of the African American experience in subsequent fiction and non-fiction works. Considering the theme, "'They Have Forgotten!' Ama Ata Aidoo Brings Strangers Back Home," *Literary Pan-Africanism's* approach to Aidoo's play *Dilemma of a Ghost* (1970) strikes a powerful chord of Pan-African longing and synthesis in this account of a marriage between a West African man and African American woman, followed by the couple's return migration from the U.S. to the groom's hometown.¹⁷ Juxtaposed against Aidoo's other works such as *Anowa* (1970) and *Our Sister Killjoy, or Reflections from a Black-Eyed Squint* (1977), readers learn about Aidoo's healthy sense of Pan-Africanism. In terms of the theme "Recognition and Belonging: Kofi Awoonor and Ayi Kwei Armah's Pan-African Regeneration," *Literary Pan-Africanism* explores both authors' central Pan-African novels.¹⁸ Awoonor's *Comes the Voyager At Last: A Tale of Return to Africa* (1992) is a mystical, ancestrally grounded, and ritualistic summoning of an African American man to West Africa where he fulfills a destiny of ritual participation in a sacred ceremony that heals the separations created by the enslavement trade. Ayi Kwei Armah's novel *Osiris Rising* levels distinctions in identity and "African-ness" made between people of African descent on the continent of Africa and in the Diaspora by managing a trope of Pan-African gender complementarity in struggle, cast in the renewed structure of the myth of Osiris. While the first half of *Literary Pan-Africanism* is an historical study, in the second half, the works of these four authors are the focus of literary Pan-Africanism as literary criticism.

Scholars in the field regard this book as a refreshing methodological inquiry whose bridge chapter between its historical analysis and later literary criticism forged new ground through its content analysis of the African world journal *Black Orpheus*. As a framework for literary criticism, it models how to invert and redirect the presumptions of the back-to-Africa "return" phenomenon¹⁹ (1) in ways that better historicize the duality that enslavement created not only returnees but also absences or gaps in memory among the Africans who remained on the continent; and (2) with a concern for guiding readers to recognize the clues that demand a regenerative Pan-African discourse that encapsulates the transnational and historical-biographical experiences of the author as well as the critical dimensions of the imaginative texts. Acutely aware of the diversity of Pan-African experience in numerous regions of the African world in transnational contact, this study prioritized the original point of departure—Africa—to account for the losses and their effect on the African homeland, in comparison to a single region of the Diaspora—the United States. Lisa Tomlinson, in *The African-Jamaican Aesthetic: Cultural Retention and Transformation Across Borders* (2017) notes *Literary Pan-Africanism's* "alternative, African-centered knowledges, especially vernacular

traditions in her analysis of black literary production, an attempt, in part, to move away from dominant Euro-Western discourses.”²⁰

Temple revisited literary Pan-Africanism as literary criticism in *Transcendence and the Africana Literary Enterprise* (2017) in an essay on “*A Raisin in the Sun* and the Tradition of Literary Pan-Africanism.” In this iteration, there is a combination of literary Pan-Africanism methodology layered with the psychology-based measure of African cognitive identity and worldview advanced by Ezemenari M. Obasi, Lisa Y. Flores, and Linda James Myers.²¹ Obasi et al.’s Worldview Analysis Scale (WAS) is a survey tool that reliably measures Africanity in Black and White respondents, and Temple suggests its applicability in deconstructing assumptions about identity in terms of motherland nativity versus legacies of exile-based migration identity (i.e. enslavement). In this reading, the character Joseph Asagai, the Nigerian student who is also a suitor for Beneatha Younger’s hand in marriage, is not necessarily the drama’s central *African* character. This essay represents an expansion of the earlier literary Pan-Africanism lens’ attention singularly to African writers who created African American characters. Instead, it follows an African American writer’s creation of an African character whose self-assuredness, observations, and continental African cultural symbolism (e.g., gifts of gowns and African music to Beneatha) suggest a hierarchy of Africanness in the play, with his Nigerian identity representing a cultural wholeness that is denied to the Younger family. The Younger family’s dialogue and exchanges introduce their cultural identity as “the sixth generation of our family in this country” which implies that their legacy goes back to another country—an African country prior to their generations’ U.S.-based experience.²² Literary Pan-Africanism is the critical tool that helps readers mine these types of details that prompt more thoughtful and meditative inquiries into heritage, identity, pre-U.S.-based experience, the population’s African genealogies, and what these genealogies can mean in terms of unity, cooperation, and mutual identification.

Literary Pan-Africanism is part of the corpus of early twenty-first century cultural histories and applied studies that explore the complexities of identity and reconciliation between continental Africans and Diasporans, and the use of the concept as a tool for literary criticism has been influential. Oyeniyi Okunoye’s “Pan-Africanism and Globalized Black Identity in the Poetry of Kofi Anyidoho and Kwadwo Opokwu-Agyemang” (2009) historicizes Temple’s attention to primarily Ghanaian writers. His explanation is that Two major factors explain this orientation in Ghanaian writing. The first is that Ghana has many of the reminders of the traumatic experience of slavery, the single most important assault on the continent, which constantly inspire creative reflection on the experience.²³ In the interest of heritage tourism, These historical sites attract diasporic Africans who are eager to trace their African roots and emotionally recapture the origins of the African Diaspora. The second factor is that Ghanaians have particularly sustained the Pan-Africanist vision and this has come to be associated with the way the Ghanaian nation is imagined.²⁴ Okunoye’s view also supports Kelly O. Secovnie’s perspective in “Ama Ata Aidoo and Kofi Awoonor: Pan-Africanism Reconstructed” (2009). She interrogates the tendency of three major literary critics identified in *Literary Pan-Africanism*—Bernth Lindfors, Karen C. Chapman, and Maryse Condé—to give negative evaluations of Aidoo’s works, and she contends that “conceptions of time, gender, and politics play a large role in the ways that Pan-Africanism is understood.”²⁵ Shingi Mavima grounds “Stories of Struggle: The Intractability of Early African Fiction from Nascent African Nationalism in Rhodesia” (2018) in theorization which he extracted from Serie McDougal’s discussion of Temple’s literary Pan-Africanism as a disciplinary Africana Studies epistemology.²⁶ He notes that it, “advocates for a paradigmatic shift in the discourse surrounding these works: instead of fictional texts studied primarily for

linguistic, cultural, and artistic purposes, we ought to elevate our analysis thereof to that accorded national histories and critical moments in the political evolution of the space out of which they emerge.”²⁷

In Temple’s “Rescuing the Literary” (2006), the original essay to which both Mavima and McDougal refer, she presents literary Pan-Africanism as an example of “historical, creative, and visionary approaches to teaching and analyzing literature using African-centered methodologies and paradigms.”²⁸ Specifically, literary Pan-Africanism is an effective tool of analysis in literary texts where the author, representing one region of Africa and the diaspora, creates a literary character from a different region of Africa and diaspora. As literature can represent an author’s philosophy and/or location, a study of characterization invokes functional conversations and analyses of Pan-African sensibility, which in an African-centered context is to be promoted and embraced.²⁹ A critical distinction of this version of literary Pan-Africanism is the critic’s effort to itemize the author’s historical-biographical creative agency, research, and transnational meditation in exploring potential Pan-African allies through characterization.

In the article, “Literary Pan-Africanism,” (2003), originally published in *Thamyris/Intersecting: Place, Sex, and Race*, scholar and critic Anne V. Adams presents literary Pan-Africanism as a “perspective” that helps readers to “re-interrogate issues of Africa with its genealogically significant other, the African Diaspora.”³⁰ Her primary focus is on narratives on migration or “crossing the Atlantic in both directions” such as those of Guadeloupean writer Maryse Condé and Ghanaian writer Ayi Kwei Armah, the latter whose work is also featured in the book *Literary Pan-Africanism*.³¹ Adams’s essay effortlessly merges literary history and summaries of Condé’s and Armah’s key texts that reflect Pan-Africanism and migration. She suggests that the multidirectional encounters between Africa and the Diaspora found in literature can help settle some of the competing debates about the contexts of experiences, roles, and relationships of Africans on the continent and in the Diaspora. These debates have lingered in the broadly conceived field of Black Atlantic Studies (which includes Africana/Black Studies and Diaspora Studies), particularly among the comparative perspectives of Paul Gilroy, Molefi Kete Asante, Anthony Appiah, Joseph Roach, Charles Piot, Manthia Diawara, and Kadiatu Kanneh. The survey of the “affinities” and “intimacies” between Africa and the Diaspora cements Adams’s essay as another central work in the history of literary Pan-Africanism. Adams reproduces the essay in the collection *Reclaiming the Human Sciences and Humanities through African Perspectives, Volume II* (2012), edited by Kofi Anyidoho and Helen Lauer. In the entry on “Anti-Colonial Movements” in *The Encyclopedia of African-American Culture and History* (2006), Jeffrey Kerr-Ritchie’s reference to literary Pan-Africanism is more in line with Adams’s flexible interpretation. Here, he considers Arna Bontemps’s historical novel *Black Thunder* (1936) which “linked slave revolts in Haiti and Virginia” as a form of literary pan-Africanism.³²

In addition to Adams’s extension of literary Pan-Africanism to Caribbean works, another study infuses literary Pan-Africanism with a revisionist approach to reassessing older Afro-Caribbean works and situating them in a tradition of Black/African heritage discourse. In *Caribbean Middlebrow: Leisure Culture and the Middle Class* (2009), Belinda Edmondson describes this process as a form of literary Pan-Africanism, first noting the shift in valuing the novel *Emmanuel Appadocca* (1854) by Maxwell Philip:

More recently, Trinidadian scholar Selwyn Cudjoe, who has done much to resuscitate interest in the Trinidadian books by reprinting them, justifies so doing by declaring that *Emmanuel Appadocca* and *Rupert Gray* constitute the earliest articulations of literary Pan-

Africanism and African diasporic sensibility, to be read alongside such early black nationalists as Liberian Edward Blyden and Trinidadian Pan-Africanist Sylvester Williams. Emphasizing the nationalist credentials of their authors, these books collectively demonstrate for Cudjoe “that Afro-Trinbagonians were part of a larger diasporic discourse about race and identity”: the novels therefore are the “foundational” texts of Caribbean national literature.³³

Edmondson then points out some of the irregularities between content and categorization, which reveals the complexity of deciphering African-centered versus Eurocentric features of the early West Indian literary tradition. Specifically,

To drive home the African connection, Cudjoe in his Calaloux Publications edition of *Rupert Gray*, features familiar images of African women wearing elaborate head wraps and posing as workers, mothers, and elegant ladies. The viewers are cued to read these African women as Afro-Caribbean women ... This image implies that the book we are about to read is a story that reflects the heritage of Afro-Caribbean women. It is they who are the inheritors of its nationalist trajectory, and it is for them that this black nationalist romance is written. Given that *Rupert Gray* is about a black accountant who falls in love with a white creole heiress, this reading is a fairly tall order. Cudjoe’s recuperative strategy seems thus poised between two tantalizing gender discourses: one a masculinist, Pan-Africanist discourse and the other a nationalist discourse that equates modernity with the social progress of Black women.³⁴

What we find is that there are three core ideations of literary Pan-Africanism. Hill’s view of where Africa fits within Harlem Renaissance era literary history based on writers’, journalists’, historians’, and political activists’ visions of Africa, is the first. Second, the book *Literary Pan-Africanism* frames the phenomenon as an extension of discourses related to African and African American relationships in contexts of Middle Passage and enslavement-era shifts in relocation and worldview. It follows the continuity of heritage memory in Africa, more than in the United States, and critiques forms of reconciliation in terms of literary visions as well as international political visions of the operations of twentieth century Pan-African organization. It also encourages the development of the topic (what Hill would call the *genre*) in future studies that could address cultural experiences beyond the African American Diaspora and in multidirectional routes. Finally, Anne Adams’s essay adds dimensions of migration and ideological synthesis.

There are other manifestations of literary Pan-Africanism in contemporary cultural Pan-Africanist thought. Some offer variations on the three core ideations of literary Pan-Africanism, while other references in the bibliography on literary Pan-Africanism are brief, casual descriptions. Babacar M’Baye considers “Student-Centered Designs of Pan-African Literature Courses” (2010) and describes the concept, generally, as an effort to “expose students to literary Pan-Africanism since they examine the relationship between African Americans and Africans from literary perspectives.”³⁵ In an eclectic set of texts, ranging from Richard Wright’s *Native Son* (1940), Hansberry’s *A Raisin the Sun* (1958), Audre Lorde’s *Zami: A New Spelling of My Name* (1982), and John Edgar Wideman’s *Brothers and Keepers* (1984), he features topics such as stereotypes of Africa, transnational relationships, and post-independence paths of African countries. In the chapter, “Critical Departures in the Practice of Pan-Africanism in the New Millennium” by Harry Odamtten from the Toyin Falola and Kwame Essien volume on *Pan-Africanism, and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity*

(2013), he describes J. E. Casely Hayford's *Ethiopia Unbound: Studies in Race and Emancipation* (1911) as a "literary Pan-African text."³⁶ His primary reference for literary Pan-Africanism is Ghanaian critic and scholar Kofi Anyidoho's *The Pan-African Ideal in Literatures of the Black World* (1989), which is a faculty lecture that was delivered at the University of Ghana in 1988. Anyidoho has been at the center of discourses on Africa-Diaspora relationships, however, Anyidoho's best known essay on Pan-African literatures is singularly focused on the differences between African and Diaspora literatures in terms of access to a traditional African language for literary production. It seems that scholars influenced by Anyidoho's ideas about the "Pan-African Ideal" have incorrectly assumed an interchangeability between descriptions of "Pan African literature" discourses and "literary Pan-Africanism."

Isabel Hofmeyr uses the description in the essay "African History and Global Studies: A View From South Africa" (2013) to elucidate the value of the magazine *Chimurenga*, founded in 2002 by Ntone Edjabe, a Cameroonian living in Cape Town. Hofmeyr positions the magazine as a publishing phenomenon alongside journals such as *Black Orpheus*, which was Chapter 3's central case study in Temple's *Literary Pan-Africanism*. The sub-heading, "*Chimurenga*: experiments in literary pan-Africanism in the global south," is the essay's only mention of literary Pan-Africanism, but Hofmeyr's description provides better context.³⁷ She writes, "Like many small literary magazines across the continent (*Black Orpheus*, *Transition*), *Chimurenga* is an experimental space, drawing together different regions and traditions from across Africa, the Caribbean, Latin America, South Asia, and China."³⁸ Expanding the scope of Pan-Africanist literary activity to South Asia and China is new. Hofmeyr adds, "In setting writings from different regions in relation to each other, the magazine creates a space in which the idea of the global south can start to assume intellectual, aesthetic, and affective form."³⁹ In "Black Writers of the World Unite: Negotiating Pan-African Politics of Cultural Struggle in Afro-Latin America" (2008), Anthony Ratcliff, also advocating for a broader view of Diaspora, extends Temple's approach to literary Pan-Africanism to call for a remedy to address the problem that "few scholars have examined the literary production of Afro-Latin Americans from a Pan-African perspective."⁴⁰ The journal *Black Orpheus* figures as a central topic in Ruth Bush's discussion of literary Pan-Africanism in "Publishing Francophone African Literature in Translation: Towards a Relational Account of Postcolonial Book History" (2013) in Kathryn Batchelor's and Claire Bisdorff's *Intimate Enemies: Translation in Francophone Contexts*. Bush explores the history of the Mbari club, which was established in Ibadan, Nigeria, and was "the first outlet for English translation of Francophone African writing through its associated journal *Black Orpheus* and programme of publications."⁴¹ She credits *Black Orpheus* with being the "first window for translations of Césaire, Senghor, Tchicaya U Tam'si, Flavian Ranaivo, and Jean-Joseph Rabearivelo, alongside early works by Gabriel Okara, Wole Soyinka, Dennis Brutus, among others."⁴² Bush's extended discussion of *Black Orpheus* expands on Temple's featuring of *Black Orpheus* in the only dedicated monograph on the subject of literary Pan-Africanism. In fact, Bush even mentions that Ezekiel Mphahlele was, at one time, an editor of *Black Orpheus*, which establishes another link with how Temple juxtaposes her study against Mphahlele's 1970s critical reiteration that Africans have no psychological need to identify with African Americans.

Joseph McLaren's essay on "Alice Walker and the Legacy of African American Discourse on Africa" (1999) in *The African Diaspora: African Origins and New World Identities* edited by Isidore Okpewho, Carole Boyce Davies, and Ali A. Mazrui, is more concerned with the African American critique—in fiction and nonfiction—of traditional African cultural practices. He writes,

In addition to the Pan-Africanism of Du Bois, more concerned with geopolitical issues and the African state, there has also been an African American 'literary Pan-Africanism' established by such figures as Langston Hughes, who was one of the first twentieth century African American literary figures to not only support Pan-Africanism but to actually set foot on the African continent, journeying to West Africa-Ghana, Nigeria, and Angola—in 1923, the same year Du Bois had made his first visit to Africa.⁴³

In a discussion on "Of Exiles and Renaissances," from Elizabeth Nunez's and Brenda M. Greene's collection *Defining Ourselves: Black Writers in the 90s* (1999), poet Eugene Redmond also highlights Hughes and links literary Pan-Africanism to a history of transnationalism that includes the experiences of many writers in the context of "exile and alienation."⁴⁴ He discusses several waves of writers:

Richard Wright explored the multifarious struggles in Africa, America, and the Third World from Paris. His writings helped us access the complexity of concepts and movement like global racism, pan-Africanism, blackness, Négritude, communism, nationalism, integration v. assimilation, existentialism, revolution, self-determination, independence, and "soul."

Other writers and activists, like W. E. B. Du Bois, James Weldon Johnson, Claude McKay, and Langston Hughes also contributed to a literary Pan-Africanism. None of them was the first or the last African derivation to traverse transcontinental shore.⁴⁵

Redmond broadens literary Pan-Africanism to include the "pre-Columbian African presence" detailed in Ivan Van Sertima's *They Came Before Columbus* (1976) as well as a litany of "globe-trotting" Black personas who "embraced banishment, brilliantly, stylistically, dexterously, and prolifically."⁴⁶ Redmond's vision hints that the 1966 use of "literary Pan-Africanism" in Kennedy's and Trout's report has had traction, but its routes are not traceable in the archive.

In a survey of ideas about literary Pan-Africanism we discover that definitions are relatively stable, but the terrain of referents, how the texts function, and regional assumptions are extremely diverse and expanding. Aside from a few dissertations and shorter works, most essays that feature literary Pan-Africanism do not cite (if they give a citation for the idea at all) more than one source or core work on the topic or provide a literature review of the history of literary Pan-Africanism. Many scholars, particularly in review essays, use generic phrasing without citations or references, as if they are unaware of its development as an advanced and stylized critical framework. A handful of reviewers and critics describe other scholars' works as representations of literary Pan-Africanism even though the original works do not utilize the precise term "literary Pan-Africanism."⁴⁷ There have been seeds of literary Pan-Africanism planted as early as Kennedy and Trout's 1966 report, Hill's key 1994 essay that equates the concept with Harlem Renaissance transnational idea formation, Adams's 2003 dedicated essay on the phenomenon that places the criticism in the context of the field's debates about Diaspora identity, and Temple's 2005 book-length study, that was first published as a 1999 dissertation on the topic. Then, there are Diaspora-oriented views, African-centered perspectives on literary Pan-Africanism as a continental—not *diasporic*—concern, and works that extend its domain to comparative engagements into Afro-Latino diasporas, South Asia, and China. Translation matters and multidirectional migrations reveal

an even greater depth of theorizations of literary Pan-Africanism that are far from uniform, though they reflect a common concern for transnational cultural and intellectual genealogies.

This survey reveals that there is growing momentum and reflection on what literary Pan-Africanism is and can be. This is most poignant in Mukoma Wa Ngugi's *The Rise of the African Novel: Politics of Language, Identity, and Ownership* (2018). The author narrates Ngugi Wa Thiong'o's backward-gazing view from 2013 to 1962 that infuses a deeper philosophical and African continental meaning to literary Pan-Africanism. Mukoma begins with an observation about a 1960s vision that "African literature would become the starting point for postcolonial African students embarking on literary journeys whether as writers or critics, all within a Pan-African literary identity that was decidedly political in nature."⁴⁸ Ngugi Wa Thiong'o reinforces this with a memory of the 1962 African Writers of English Expression conference held at Makerere University in Uganda that gathered Ezekiel Mphahlele, Bloke Modisane, Christopher Okibgo, Wole Soyinka, Chinua Achebe, and James Ngugi. In Ngugi's remarks, that also mention the passing of Chinua Achebe, he reflectively relates the 1962 moment with the origins of literary Pan-Africanism:

These writers would later give us what's the nearest thing to a genuine Pan African intellectual article: the book, African literature. When Achebe passed on recently he was mourned all over the continent. His novel, *Things Fall Apart*, the text most discussed at the conference alongside that of Dennis Brutus from South Africa, is read in all Africa. The work of others like Okot p'Bitek and Wole Soyinka, and that of the generations that have followed, Dangarembga, Ngozi Adichie and Doreen Bainsana are equally well-received as belonging to Africa. Thus if Makerere was the site and the symbol of an East African intellectual community, it also marked the birth of literary Pan-Africanism.⁴⁹

This is an interesting announcement in light of the fact that the Diaspora has been functionally theorizing and advancing numerous versions of literary Pan-Africanism that have inspired a significant amount of idea formation and is ever expanding in dissertations and new works of scholarship. In addition, Mukoma features Soyinka's novel, *The Interpreters*, in his discussion, which revitalizes the value of the novel that Temple featured as a "first" in the Soyinka chapter of *Literary Pan-Africanism*.

Ideas about literary Pan-Africanism have been emerging simultaneously throughout Africa and the Diaspora for over fifty years, and there is a canon of literary texts that benefits from using literary Pan-Africanism as criticism. The utility of the theorizations will continue to bloom when applied to works by contemporary writers such as Nigerian Chimamanda Ngozi Adichie, Sudanese Leila Aboulela, and many others whose literatures on migration experiences and trans-African and trans-Diasporic experiences can be categorized within the genre of literary Pan-Africanism. Even though this overview is restricted to works that explicitly advance literary Pan-Africanism, there are numerous adjacent studies that also survey "Pan-African literary" efforts or "Pan-African literature."⁵⁰ Thus it is easy to imagine putting "literary" and "Pan-African/ism" together to describe any number of negotiated relationships seen in literature. In the end, the best definitions of literary Pan-Africanism are those that demarcate phenomena in specific terms that defy generalizations. Multiple specificities will continue to grow the framework, and though definitions and applications are not uniform, they will all likely reflect measures of heritage consciousness, awareness of migration, flexibility to account for communication and linguistic differences, and the power of transnational

memory and cyclical storytelling about African people's journeys and retrievals in collective efforts toward renewal and wholeness. As Wole Soyinka wondered,

What other race, and especially on the African continent, has lost 200 million of its people through forcible uprooting? Elementary curiosity justifies that we seek out those who survived of that number and inquire in what forms have they survived? What have they achieved? What have they contributed to their new environments? What lessons, if any, have their specific genius evolved for those of us who were left behind? The human (and African) habit of celebration, which is an act of recollection, assessment, and rededication validates this impulse.⁵¹

Soyinka's inquiry encapsulates the multidirectional curiosity that prompts literary Pan-Africanism in imaginative and reflective works throughout Africa and the Diaspora.

Notes

- 1 See Ellen Kennedy and Paulette J. Trout, "The Roots of Negritude," *Africa Report* 11.5 (May 1, 1966), 57, 61.
- 2 Robert A. Hill, Introduction, *Ethiopian Stories* by George S. Schuyler (Boston: Northeastern UP), 1–50.
- 3 Qtd. in Hill, 1. See Elisabeth Mudimbe-Boyi, "Harlem Renaissance and Africa: An Ambiguous Adventure," in *The Surreptitious Speech: Presence Africaine and the Politics of Otherness, 1947–1987*, edited by V. Y. Mudimbe (Chicago: University of Chicago press, 1992), pp. 174–84.
- 4 Ibid., 35.
- 5 Ibid., 40.
- 6 Christine Matzke and Susanne Muehleisen, Introduction, in *Postcolonial Postmortems: Crime Fiction from a Transcultural Perspective* (New York: Rodopi Editions, 2006), 14.
- 7 A. B. Christa Schwarz, "Colonial Struggle on Manhattan Soil: George Schuyler's 'The Ethiopia Murder Mystery,'" in *Postcolonial Postmortems: Crime Fiction from a Transcultural Perspective*, edited by Christine Matzke and Susanne Muehleisen (New York: Editions Rodopi, 2006), 208.
- 8 Ahmad Rahman, *The Regime Change of Kwame Nkrumah: Epic Heroism in Africa and the Diaspora* (2007), 61–62.
- 9 Ibid., 218.
- 10 Ibid.
- 11 Schwarz, "Colonial Struggle," 208.
- 12 See the concluding sections—"Armah's Contribution to Literary Pan-Africanism" and "Conclusion: Defining Literary Pan-Africanism and Future Directions of Study" in Christel N. Temple, *The African Vision of the African-American Experience: A Regenerative Pan-African Discourse in Contemporary West African Literature*, Temple University, ProQuests Dissertation Publishing, 1999.
- 13 Ezekiel Mphahlele, "Notes from the Black American World: Images of Africa in Afro-American Literature—Conclusion," *Okike: An Afrikan Journal of New Writing* 11 (1976): 139.
- 14 Christel N. Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2005), 4.
- 15 Qtd. in Temple, 91. See also, St. Clair Drake, "Diaspora Studies and Pan-Africanism," *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora*, ed. Joseph E. Harris (Washington, D.C.: Howard UP, 1982), 363.
- 16 See Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, in which Chapter 4 is a study of Soyinka's complete works.
- 17 See Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, in which Chapter 5 is a study of Aïdoo's complete works.
- 18 See Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, in which Chapter 6 is a joint study of Awoonor's and Armah's contemporary Pan-African novels.
- 19 Temple expands the study of "the return" in a later work that is adjacent to ideas of literary Pan-Africanism. In "Using Sankofa as a Literary Paradigm," in *AfroEuropeans: Cultures and Identities*, edited by Marta Sofia Lopez (Newcastle, UK: Cambridge Scholars Press, 2008), 108–125, she explores the multidirectional heritage migration in Afro-European fiction and non-fiction.

- works representing Germany, France, Guadeloupe, and Russia. She writes, "Literature of the return embodies not only ideas about back-to-Africa but also ideas about the associated voyages people of African descent have made to, from, and between regions of the diaspora in their quest to find home or make significant contributions to their African identities" (110–111).
- 20 Lisa Tomlinson, *The African-Jamaican Aesthetic: Cultural Retention and Transformation Across Borders* (Boston: Brill/Rodopi, 2017), xviii.
 - 21 See Ezemenari M. Obasi, Lisa Y. Flores, and Linda James Myers, "Construction and Initial Validation of the Worldview Analysis Scale," *Journal of Black Studies* 39.6 (2009): 937–961.
 - 22 Lorraine Hansberry, *A Raisin in the Sun* (New York: Penguin Books, 1988), 48.
 - 23 Oyeniyi Okunoye, "Pan-Africanism and Globalized Black Identity in the Poetry of Kofi Anyidoho and Kwadwo Opokwu-Agyemang" *ARIEL: A Review of International English* 40.1 (2009): 58.
 - 24 Ibid.
 - 25 Kelly O. Secovnie, "Ama Ata Aidoo and Kofi Awoonor: Pan-Africanism Reconstructed," *Obsidian: Literature in the African Diaspora* 8.2 (2007): no pagination.
 - 26 See Shingi Mavima, "Stories of Struggle: The Intractability of Early African Fiction from Nascent African Nationalism in Rhodesia," *Africology: The Journal of Pan African Studies* 12.3 (2018): 151. For reference, see also Serie McDougal, "African Studies' Epistemic Identity: An Analysis of Theory and Epistemology in the Discipline," *Journal of African American Studies* 18.2 (2014): 236–250, especially p. 242 and 246.
 - 27 Ibid., 151.
 - 28 Christel N. Temple, "Rescuing the Literary," *Journal of Black Studies* 36.5 (2006): 780.
 - 29 Ibid., 781.
 - 30 Anne V. Adams, "Literary Pan-Africanism," *Thamyris/Intersecting: Place, Sex, Race* 11.1 (2003): 138.
 - 31 Ibid., 144.
 - 32 Jeffrey Kerr-Ritchie, "Anti-Colonial Movements" in *The Encyclopedia of African-American Culture and History, Vol. 1, 2nd Edition*, edited by Colin A. Palmer (Detroit: Macmillan Reference, 2006), 109.
 - 33 Belinda Edmondson, *Caribbean Middlebrow: Leisure Culture and the Middle Class* (Ithaca: Cornell UP, 2009), 52.
 - 34 Ibid., 53.
 - 35 Boubacar M'Baye, "Student-Centered Designs of Pan-African Literature Courses," *CEA Forum* (2010): 13.
 - 36 Harry Odumtten, "Critical Departures in the Practice of Pan-Africanism in the New Millennium" in *Pan-Africanism, and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity*, edited by Toyin Falola and Kwame Essien (New York: Routledge, 2013), 174.
 - 37 Isabel Hofmeyr, "African History and Global Studies: A View From South Africa" *Journal of African History* 54.3 (2013): 341–349.
 - 38 Ibid., 345.
 - 39 Ibid.
 - 40 Anthony Ratcliff, "Black Writers of the World Unite: Negotiating Pan-African Politics of Cultural Struggle in Afro-Latin America," *The Black Scholar* 37.4 (2008): 30.
 - 41 Ruth Bush, "Publishing Francophone African Literature in Translation: Towards a Relational Account of Postcolonial Book History" in *Intimate Enemies: Translation in Francophone Contexts*, edited by Kathryn Batchelor and Claire Bisdorff (Liverpool: Liverpool UP, 2013), 56.
 - 42 Ibid.
 - 43 Joseph McLaren, "Alice Walker and the Legacy of African American Discourse on Africa," in *The African Diaspora: African Origins and New World Identities*, edited by Isidore Okpewho, Carole Boyce Davies, and Ali A. Mazrui (Bloomington, IN: Indiana UP, 1999), 527–28.
 - 44 Eugene Redmond, "Of Exiles and Renaissances," in *Defining Ourselves: Black Writers in the 90s*, edited by Elizabeth Nunez and Brenda M. Greene (New York: Peter Lang, 1999), 60.
 - 45 Ibid., 61.
 - 46 Ibid.
 - 47 These types of references include *critics'* descriptions of traces of "literary Pan-Africanism" in specific works or conceptual approaches of scholars such as Selwyn Cudjoe and Ode Ogede, yet the *concept* of "literary Pan-Africanism" does not explicitly appear in Cudjoe's and Ogede's texts. This suggests that literary and cultural critics are aware of the categorization and are naturally compelled to

- associate certain writers' work (especially if it relates to some aspect of Pan-Africanism) with the larger project of literary Pan-Africanism.
- 48 Mukoma Wa Ngugi, *The Rise of the African Novel: Politics of Language, Identity, and Ownership* (Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 2018), 137.
 - 49 Qtd. in *Ibid.*, 138–139. See also the original citation from Mukoma's citation—Ngugi Wa Thiong'o, "Makerere Dreams: Language and New Frontiers of Knowledge." University of East Africa 50th Anniversary Celebration. Makerere University, Kampala. 29 June 2013. *Makerere University*. Web. 24 June 2014.
 - 50 See A. J. Chennells, "Marxist and Pan-Africanist Literary Theories and a Sociology of Zimbabwean Literature" in *Zambezia* 20.2 (1993): 109–129. While this essay does not precisely represent literary Pan-Africanism, it demonstrates an adjacent type of discussion wherein there is easy pairing of phrasing such as "Pan-Africanist literary theories." Like Christel N. Temple's comprehensive study, *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism*, Chennells also relies on Chidi Amuta's literary criticism from *The Theory of African Literature: Implications for Practical Criticism* (London: Institute for African Alternatives/Zed Books, 1989) to reinforce Pan-Africanist perspectives in literary criticism. See Also the work of Kofi Anyidoho, whose essays such as "Language and the Development Strategy in Pan-African Literatures" 23.1 (1992): 45–63, uses the phrasing of "Pan-African Literatures," which is different from theorizations of Literary Pan-Africanism, though some scholars conflate the two.
 - 51 Wole Soyinka, "The African World and the Ethno-Cultural Debate, in *African Culture: Rhythms of Unity*, edited by Molefi Kete Asante and Kariamu Welsh-Asante (Trenton: Africa World Press, 1990), 19.

Bibliography

- Adams, Anne. "Literary Pan-Africanism." *Thamyris/Intersecting: Place, Sex, and Race* 11.1 (2003) 137–150.
- Adams, Anne. "Literary Pan-Africanism." *Reclaiming the Human Sciences and Humanities through African Perspectives: Volume II*. edited by Kofi Anyidoho and Helen Lauer. 1298–1310. Accra, Ghana: Sub-Saharan Publisher, 2012.
- Aidoo, Ama Ata. *Dilemma of a Ghost*. 1970. New York: Longman, 1965.
- Aidoo, Ama Ata. *Our Sister Killjoy, or Reflections from a Black-Eyed Squint*. 1977. New York: Longman, 1994.
- Anyidoho, Kofi. *The Pan African Ideal in Literatures of the Black World*. Accra: University of Ghana, 1989.
- Armah, Ayi Kwei. *Osiris Rising: A Novel*. Pomegranate, West. Africa: Per Ankh, 1995.
- Awoonor, Kofi. *Comes the Voyager at Last: A Tale of Return to Africa*. Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 1992.
- Bush, Ruth. "Publishing Francophone African Literature in Translation: towards a Relational Accounting of Postcolonial Book History." *Intimate Enemies: translation in Francophone Contexts*. edited by Kathryn Batchelor and Claire Bisdorff. 49–68. Liverpool: Liverpool UP, 2013.
- Edmondson, Belinda. *Caribbean Middlebrow: leisure Culture and the Middle Class*. Ithaca: Cornell UP, 2009.
- Hansberry, Lorraine. *A Raisin in the Sun*. 1959. New York: Penguin Books, 1988, 148.
- Hill, Robert A. "Ethiopian Stories: George S. Schuyler and Literary Pan-Africanism in the 1930S." *Comparative Studies of South Asia, Africa, and the Middle East* 14.2 (1994a) 67–85.
- Hill, Robert A. Introduction. *Ethiopian Stories, by George S. Schuyler*. Boston: Northeastern UP, 1994b, 1–50.
- Hofmeyr, Isabel. "African History and Global Studies: A View from South Africa." *Journal of African History* 54.3 (2013) 341–349.
- Høgsbjerg, Christian. "Rufus E. Fennell: A Literary Pan-Africanist in Britain." *Race & Class* 56.1 (2014) 59–80.
- James, C. L. R. *Black Jacobins*. 1938. New York: Vintage Books, 1989.
- Kennedy, Ellen and Trout, Paulette J. "The Roots of Negritude." *Africa Report* 11.5 (May 1, 1966): 61.
- Kerr-Ritchie, Jeffrey. "Anti-Colonial Movements." *Encyclopedia of African-American Culture and History*, vol. 1, 2nd Edition, edited by Colin A. Palmer. 105–111. Detroit: Macmillan Reference, 2006.
- M'Baye, Babacar. "Student-centered Designs of Pan-African Literature Courses." *CEA Forum* 39.2 (2010): 1–27.
- Matzke, Christine and Muehleisen, Susanne. *Postcolonial Postmortems: crime Fiction from a Transcultural Perspective*. New York: Editions Rodopi, 2006.

- Mavima, Shingi. "Stories of Struggle: the Intractability of Early African Fiction from Nascent African Nationalism in Rhodesia." *Africology: the Journal of Pan African Studies* 12.3 (2018) 150–163.
- McDougal, Serie. "Africana Studies' Epistemic Identity: an Analysis of Theory and Epistemology in the Discipline." *Journal of African American Studies* 18.2 (2014) 236–250.
- McKay, Claude. *Amiable with Big Teeth*. New York: Penguin Classics, 2018.
- McLaren, Joseph. "Alice Walker and the Legacy of African American Discourse on Africa." *The African Diaspora: african Origins and New World Identities*. edited by Isidore Okpewho, Carole Boyce Davies, and Ali Mazrui. 525–537. Bloomington: Indiana UP, 1999.
- Mphahlele, Ezekiel. "Notes from the Black American World: images of Africa in Afro-American Literature—Conclusion." *Okike: an Afrikan Journal of New Writing* 11 (1976) 131–153.
- Mudimbe-Boyi, Elisabeth. "Harlem Renaissance and Africa: an Ambiguous Adventure." *The Surreptitious Speech: présence Africaine and the Politics of Otherness*. edited by V. Y. Mudimbe. 174–184. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1992.
- Obasi, Ezemenari M., Flores, Lisa Y., and James-Myers, Linda. "Construction and Initial Validation of the Worldview Analysis Scale," *Journal of Black Studies* 39.6 (2009): 937–961.
- Odumtten, Harry. "Critical Departures in the Practice of Pan-Africanism in the New Millennium." *Pan-Africanism, Citizenship and Identity*. edited by Toyin Falola and Kwame Essien. 172–186. New York: Routledge, 2013.
- Okunoye, Oyeniyi. "Pan-africanism and Globalized Black Identity in the Poetry of Kofi Anyidoho and Kwadwo Opokwu-Agyemang." *ARIEL: A Review of International English* 40.1 (2009) 57–79.
- Rahman, Ahmed. *The Regime Change of Kwame Nkrumah: epic Heroism in Africa and the Diaspora*. New York: Palgrave, 2007, 62.
- Ratcliff, Anthony. "'Black Writers of the World Unite!': negotiating Pan-African Politics of Cultural Struggle in Afro-Latin America." *The Black Scholar* 37.4 (2008) 27–38.
- Redmond, Eugene. "Of Exiles and Renaissances." *Defining Ourselves: black Writers in the 90s*. edited by Elizabeth Nunez and Brenda M. Greene. 59–62. New York: Peter Lang, 1999.
- Schuyler, George S. *Ethiopian Stories*. Boston: Northeastern UP, 1994.
- Schwarz, A. B. Christa. "Colonial Struggles on Manhattan Soil: george Schuyler's 'The Ethiopian Murder Mystery.'" *Postcolonial Postmortems: crime Fiction from a Transcultural Perspective*. edited by Christine Matzke and Susanne Muhleisen. 201–228. New York: Editions Rodopi, 2006.
- Secovnie, Kelly. "Ama Ata Aidoo and Kofi Awoonor: pan-Africanism Reconstructed." *Obsidian: Literature in the African Diaspora* 8.2 (2007): no pagination.
- Soyinka, Wole. *The Interpreters: A Novel*. 1965. New York: Heinemann, 1986.
- Soyinka, Wole. "The African World and the Ethno-Cultural Debate." *African Culture: rhythms of Unity*. edited by Molefi Kete Asante and Kariamu Welsh-Asante. 13–38. Trenton: Africa World Press, 1990.
- Srivastava, Neelam. *Italian Colonialism and Resistances to Empire, 1930-1970*. London: Palgrave Macmillan, 2018.
- St. Clair Drake, "Diaspora Studies and Pan-Africanism," *Global Dimensions of the African Diaspora*, edited by Joseph E. Harris Washington, DC, 1982, 363. The full length of this article is pp. 341–401.
- Temple, Christel N. *Literary Pan-Africanism: history, Contexts, and Criticism*. Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2005.
- Temple, Christel N. "Rescuing the Literary." *Journal of Black Studies* 36.5 (2006) 764–785.
- Temple, Christel N.. "The African Vision of the African-American Experience: A Regenerative Pan-African Discourse in Contemporary West African Literature." PhD diss., Temple University, 1999.
- Temple, Christel N. *Transcendence and the Africana Literary Enterprise*. New York: Lexington Books, 2017.
- Tomlinson, Lisa. *The African-Jamaican Aesthetic: cultural Retention and Transformation across Borders*. Boston: Brill/Rodopi, 2017.
- Van Sertima, Ivan. *They Came before Columbus: the African Presence in Ancient America*. 1976. New York: Random House, 2003.
- Wa Ngugi, Mukoma. *The Rise of the African Novel: politics of Language, Identity, and Ownership*. Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 2018.

Literary Pan-Africanism in African epics

The legends of Chaka Zulu and Sundiata Keita

Babacar M'Baye

Thomas Mofolo's version of the epic of Chaka Zulu seems to be the oldest one and the first to be published. In his introduction to this epic, entitled *Chaka*, that Mofolo wrote in a novel form, Daniel P. Kunene says that a translated version of the text was available in 1931 although the manuscript was mentioned in a 1912 clergy book entitled *Livre d'Or de la Mission de Lessouto*.¹ Mofolo's rendition of Chaka's story has been hailed as "one of the most important pieces of twentieth century African literature."² This book's capital stature in African literature is not surprising because it is a pivotal example of literary Pan-Africanism. This position is visible in the fact that Mofolo's book created the retributive image of Africa as a strong continent inhabited by dignified, proud, and valuable people. This discourse was central in Africa's fight for independence and world respect, especially during the postcolonial period when numerous contemporary African political leaders revisited Mofolo's account of Chaka to tell their own versions of this emperor's resistance against European oppression. Donald E. Herdeck explains: "King Chaka has become the 'culture hero' of many Black African intellectuals and increasingly is the subject of poems and plays written by artists far from Zululand."³ Twentieth century African authors, such as Leopold Sédar Senghor and Seydou Badian, among others, were drawn to Chaka's epic because they revised it in ways that allowed them to exemplify black defiance of European imperialism and racism. My exploration of the significance of Chaka's myth departs from this intellectual tradition that glorified Chaka in the contexts of the early post-independence periods of Africa in which the existence of heroes to whom black people could turn was a necessary source of pride and identification. Rather than quibble with that intellectual tradition, this chapter intends to simply look at how Chaka's myth reveals both strengths and weaknesses that either embrace or reject Pan-Africanism. In addition, this essay attempts to examine Chaka's legend as one of the narratives that can be compared with the Malian *Epic of Sundiata Keita* that was popularized with the publication of Djibril Tamsir Niane's 1965 version of the story. This comparison shows that both Chaka's and Sundiata's epics focus on the incredible and supernatural journeys of heroes and heroines who are compelled to leave their land of birth and forcefully

go to foreign nations in search of survival and substance, and return home to claim their rightful place in a society that had shunned them before. This heroic cycle is a form of literary Pan-Africanism since it serves as a means of garnering a liberator's consciousness about the importance of defending and protecting their community unless they become corrupted by evil forces.

Defining literary Pan-Africanism

The expression "literary Pan-Africanism" is a term that was popularized by Christel N. Temple's 2005 book, *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism*. In this book, Temple theorizes the concept of "literary Pan-Africanism" as a study of African literary texts founded on the belief that "historical and cultural critique of the African vision of the African-American experience has the ability to preserve understanding and to improve communication between Africans and African Americans."⁴ Specifically, Temple invites the scholar of "literary Pan-Africanism" to demonstrate the ways in which:

- (1) The text seeks to regenerate relationships, historical understanding and future interaction between Africans and the descendants of the Africans dispersed through the European enslavement trade;
- (2) The writer introduces mutual understanding and nurtures the relationships between Africans and African-Americans;
- (3) The philosophy and ideals of the narrative parallel tenets of contemporary and/or traditional Pan-African ideology;
- (4) Texts of this category utilize similar terminology expressive of a return, that consistently demonstrates the usage of the prefix "re-;"
- (5) The African-American characters are generally non-stereotyped depictions;
- (6) The author's social, cultural, political and/or ideological deliberateness is Pan-African, Afrocentric, and/or African-centered;
- (7) The author usually has spent time among African-American communities in the United States.⁵

While Temple's ambitious work is praiseworthy due to its emphasis on how Africans perceive African Americans, its focus on this representation as the distinctive characteristic and requirement of literary Pan-Africanism is somewhat problematic. Although Temple's call for a scholarship "which would evaluate individual African perspectives of the African-American experience at multiple stages of encounter"⁶ can yield much in its study, literary Pan-Africanism should include more than such contact. Confining "literary Pan-Africanism" to the study of continental Africans' views on African Americans may replicate the American monumentalism and exceptionalism that Paul Gilroy laments in *The Black Atlantic: Modernity and Double Consciousness* while resuscitating it in his own neglect of continental Africans' contributions to black transnational ideas of nationalism and modernity.⁷ Yet, to his credit, Gilroy makes a compelling critique of African American particularity when, as John Cullen Gruesser states, he decries it in *The Black Atlantic* as "the belief that because of their experiences in the West and adoption of Christianity, black Americans were the people best qualified to lead Africans and members of the diaspora to the bright future foretold for them."⁸ Theorizing literary Pan-Africanism mainly as African writers' depictions of African Americans resuscitates the aforementioned exceptionalism and ignores how the term can have a variety of meaning such as continental Africans' perceptions of themselves or of the history

of all blacks, including those of the diaspora among whom African Americans belong. In this vein, Walter Rodney would have somewhat disagreed with Temple's definition of Pan-Africanism since he partially perceives it as an inquiry that should begin with the connections between blacks of Africa and the Caribbean and end with the links among the world's downtrodden peoples.⁹

By contrast, African intellectuals generally conceptualize Pan-Africanism in a fashion which, though emphasizing the importance of the African diaspora and worldwide class struggles against domination, be it capitalist or otherwise, stresses the necessity of continental unity. Consequently, from the vantage point of African intellectuals, "literary Pan-Africanism" would primarily mean a study of how African writers theorize the common issues facing Africa and how they can be overcome through celebrations of a shared sense of history, cultures, and destinies between not just continental Africans, but also between these populations and blacks of the diaspora. This open-ended conception of Pan-Africanism is apparent in Emanuel Geiss's following statement:

The main concern of twentieth century Pan-African writers has been to prove Africa's right to independence and the possibility of its rapid development through the introduction of modern techniques. The second great problem was to find some synthesis between the needs of modernization and the preservation of African society and culture. The discussion about Africa's place in the modern world was indeed more important than the celebration of vague schemes for political union. Pan-Africanism is thus largely African nationalism projected on the continental level and strengthened by the support of Afro-Americans in the New World.¹⁰

From this African-centered perspective, "literary Pan-Africanism" should include the complex ways in which African writers and intellectuals struggle to lift the drastic effects of slavery, imperialism, and neocolonialism in their respective societies in terms that reflect their shared concerns with and interests in the past, present, and future of their continent. This struggle is inseparable from those of blacks of the diaspora since black Atlantic and continental African thoughts and histories have mutually influenced each other in modernity. As Ali Mazrui says, "The origins of modern intellectualism and the origins of Pan-Africanism are intertwined. We can imagine intellectualism without Pan-Africanism, but we cannot envisage Pan-Africanism without the intellectualization of the African condition."¹¹ This chapter contributes to the aforementioned conversations by exploring the roots of literary Pan-Africanism in the epics of Chaka and Sundiata. These narratives represent the two respective heroes' personifications or disembodiments of Pan-Africanism through their life cycles and relationships with their particular families and kingdom.

Who was Chaka Zulu?

From the onset of his novel, Mofolo suggests that his epic of Chaka is steeped into literary pan-Africanism, as is apparent in his reference to various groups that composed South Africa during the early eighteenth century. Mofolo describes these groups, such as the Khoi, the Batswana, the Basotho, the Bakone, the Matebele, and the Sotho, among others, as "nations"¹² rather than as tribes, thus countering European colonialist appellations of colonized populations. One also notices early in his book that Mofolo is nostalgic of the times when South Africa was independent before the arrival of Europeans, thereby enjoying a sovereignty that was visible in its peoples' ownership of and closeness to the land where

they lived. He writes: "The reader must understand that we are describing how the nations were situated long ago when the people were still settled upon the land."¹³ It is interesting that Mofolo describes the original inhabitants of South Africa as "settled upon the land," since this representation disrupts the conceptions of themselves as "settlers" of new lands that Europeans later used to lay claims on these populations' nations.

In order to understand Mofolo's book, one needs to first know who Chaka was. According to Kwame Anthony Appiah and Henry Louis Gates, Jr., Chaka Zulu was born about 1787 and died in 1828. "Hailed as the greatest of African military leaders, Chaka created the Zulu empire in southern Africa."¹⁴ Both historical records and oral traditions suggest that Chaka was special since the circumstances of his birth were extraordinary. First, "Zulu traditions relate the following: Conceived out of wedlock, Shaka was born to a Zulu chieftain, Senzangakhona, and an orphaned princess, Nandi, from a neighboring tribe, who quickly married before Shaka's birth."¹⁵ But, as legend also suggests, Chaka was born with supernatural qualities. According to Mofolo, when Chaka was born, a messenger told his father, "There has been born to you a boy, an ox of the vultures,' and indeed there never was a child for whom these words were more fitting."¹⁶ Almost foretelling his son's might, Senzangakhona himself sent a messenger to tell his overlord that "he had obtained a herdboys who would watch his herds, who would fight his wars, who would succeed him in the kingship."¹⁷ Yet, Senzangakhona relinquished all these wishes as Nandi's co-wives, especially one who gave birth to Chaka's siblings, Mfokazana and Dingana, were about to tell the Great King Jobe that "Nandi was married when she was already heavy."¹⁸ For fear of seeing Nandi, her "age-mates," and himself killed by Jobe, "he [Senzangakhona] declared that Chaka was no longer heir to the kingship, and that Mfokazana would instead be his successor."¹⁹

Consequently, when Chaka was a young boy, he had to go into exile with his mother and leave his father's town of Nobamba.

Later in the book, we are told that Nandi and Senzangakhona suffered from guilt, and Senzangakhona, fearing that his crime would be exposed, went to the length of plotting to kill his own son. Yet, if Senzangakhona had not committed this shameful deed in his youth, Chaka would have been at his home at Nobamba, a precious child, a child dearly loved by his father.²⁰

Destiny had a strange way of unfolding because, while he was forced out of his father's town, Chaka learned to fight and fend for himself. He also learned to demonstrate Pan-Africanism through his might and his ability to help numerous people away from his homeland. Even if his father later successfully pleaded for his return to Ncube, another town where Chaka and his mother found refuge, Senzangakhona initially banished them from the city and had promised "that Nandi would never again set foot in Nobamba."²¹ In this sense, Chaka's epic follows the cycle of the hero's exile.

Next, when he was still a young lad, Chaka killed a lion that was terrorizing Ncube²² and, later, was unscathed when his peers plotted to have him killed by a roaming hyena while he was watching them sleep in their huts.²³ Even if Chaka was left alone by the hyena and killed a lion that attacked him, his age-mates kept beating and ridiculing him, reminding us of a similar treatment that Sundiata also received from his peers when he was crippled. Yet Chaka persevered while he was still a young lad, as his mother took him to a woman healer who gave him two medicines and ordered him to go to a river before prophesizing that "this child will receive blessings that exceed all expectations."²⁴ Chaka's power is

connected to that of a Snake, since, “Always at the end of a fight he would feel a sense of happiness, and experience a wonderful feeling of relaxation, like a poisonous snake which, after biting a person, lies sick until that person dies, whereupon it casts its skin and begins to move about again.”²⁵ Chaka’s new power scared his peers whom he killed or defeated with a stick.²⁶ Chaka’s power stems from his bond with a snake god, as is apparent at the moment when he goes to the river in which a giant serpent of immeasurable length surrounds him, licks his face, and disappears soon before a mysterious voice from the reeds says:

Hail! Hail! This land is yours, child of my compatriot,
 You shall rule over nations and their kings
 You shall rule over peoples of diverse traditions
 You shall even rule over the winds and the sea storms
 And the pools of large rivers that run deep:
 And all things shall obey you with unquestioning obedience,
 And shall kneel at your feet!
 O yes, oi! oi! Yet you must go by the right path.²⁷

The last stanza “Yet you must go by the right path” foreshadows the main irony in the rest of Chaka’s life since it became ridden with an insatiable thirst for blood that later transformed the victimized and once exiled child into one of the most vengeful and deadly attackers of many innocent people. Later, Chaka became the king of not only the Zulu empire but of all the other Southern African societies that he defeated or forced to submission.

Chaka the savior

However, despite its violent record, Chaka’s story is relevant to the study of literary Pan-Africanism since it reflects the black hero’s role as defender of the poor, the weak, and the vulnerable that he played during most of his childhood. In Chaka’s myth, this role is apparent in the scene in which the hero shields a young woman of Ncube from a hyena’s attack. When the young woman rose up after she fainted, she yelled three times and she clung to Chaka, hanging on to him and kissing him, and doing all sorts of things, and she said: “I knew it could never be any one else but you, Chaka, savior of those in the grip of death, where all hope is lost!”²⁸ This quotation shows the important role of protector of his people that Chaka, like Sundiata, also played from a young age. In a similar vein, the critic Kwame Ayivor states:

The growth of Chaka’s pre-eminence conforms to African epic traditions. The frequent fights with his fellow herdboys turn him into an awesome warrior. Chaka’s inherent epic attributes are further enhanced by the doctoring provided by the medicine woman from Bugane. The immediate outcome of this unusual growth and development is that, like Sundiata, Chaka emerges as the undisputed leader of the herdboys who used to brutalize him. He achieves this feat by beating all his peers into submission.²⁹

Chaka’s protection of the “young woman” and the village of Ncube from a hyena and, previously, from a lion, outweighs his beating of his mates (something that Sundiata also does). Chaka’s feat suggests that he did embody, in his early years, positive leadership qualities,

such as a devotion to his people's safety, which probably explain the status of Pan-African hero that he occupies in African literature. Discussing this status, Carolyn Hamilton writes:

For [Donald] Burness, African literature is inescapably political, and he explored the way in which the figure of Chaka was used as a proud expression of Négritude. For Burness, Chaka was a mythical figure that could be reworked to explain the origin and destiny of a people.³⁰

It is from a similar perspective that Chaka has earned the status of a Pan-African symbol in black studies in spite of the fact that his massive killings of Zulus and members of other Southern African ethnic groups are undeniable. Chaka's immeasurable violent acts are apparent when Appiah and Gates assert:

By 1823 Shaka had conquered all the present-day Natal, and left the area in ruin. His massive victories disrupted the clan structure of the interior, as clans destroyed each other in their attempts to escape encroaching Zulu. Known as the Mfecane (the Crushing), this period of warfare left 2 million dead and enabled the Great Boer Trek of the 1830s to colonize the area easily, as there were few to oppose them. Shaka was fascinated by the ways and artifacts of Europeans, whom he first encountered in 1824, and though he was convinced of the superiority of his own civilization, he allowed them to stay.³¹

In this sense, Chaka's Pan-Africanism can be considered as similar to that of world leaders whose calls for unity led to the colonization of other groups and the slaughter of their own people for egotistical reasons including a disillusioned sense of grandeur. In this sense, a critic perceives Chaka as an equivalent of Julius Caesar when he writes:

Both Caesar and Chaka evince a Rubiconesque ambition, an irreversible Macbeth-like vaulting ambition which overleaps itself and falls on the other side beyond one's ends of being onto the ends of being in general. However, Caesar and Chaka exude differently this Rubiconesque ambition in such ways that make Caesar live and die a democratic dictator while Chaka lives and dies a demonic dictator.³²

Chaka's dictatorship was also blatant when he grew up and became a leader who mercilessly subdued other chiefs of Southern Africa such as Mfokazana³³ and Zwide, the latter whom he forced to run to his own death before he "ordered that all of Zwide's people, men, women and children, be killed, and only the young men be spared."³⁴ According to Mofolo, "Then when he returned from chasing Zwide, he[Chaka] summoned together all Zwide's young men who had escaped, and he incorporated them into his armies, rather than kill them."³⁵ Therefore, Chaka's Pan-Africanism was largely ill-fated and dictatorial since it was based on the false notion that one could create unity through the decimation of one's enemies, which is a philosophy that has hampered African continental political unity and economic and cultural integration since the dawn of independence. Africa's development might have been delayed by decades due to the ethnic tensions that many of its leaders such as Idi Amin, Sekou Touré, Samuel Do, Charles Taylor, Mobutu Sese Seko, Muammar Khadafi, Yaya Jammeh, and many others fomented or exacerbated during their regimes to maintain dictatorial rules. The effects of such dictatorships resembled those of Chaka since they revealed the leaders' false conceptions of Pan-African unity with the sowing of violence and discord for menial political gain. Though, at varying degrees, these leaders had Pan-Africanist

ambitions, they, like Chaka, ended up choking their people and suppressing their freedom. From this perspective, Chaka's leadership veered away from Pan-Africanism when it represented violence, abuse, and totalitarianism against one's people and imagined enemies.

Isanusi: the other source of Chaka's power

In Mofolo's book, one also learns that Chaka's resolve to return to his homeland stemmed from a state in which he was inhabited by an uncontrollable thirst for vengeance that burned everyone in his way. Chaka's sorcery resulted from the witch doctor Isanusi who, as a derivative of the snake god, agreed to vaccinate him with protective power only if he complied to a Machiavellian pact. Isanusi told Chaka

You must believe in me, I will never deceive you. I believe that you have, in a small way, seen the affairs of this world, that people live by favouritism and bias, by hatred and by strength; and now you too must part with mercy from this very day, because mercy devours its owner.³⁶

Chaka's life was ruled by Isanusi's evil wisdom, leading him to kill randomly for power and thoughtlessly murder his lover Noliwa. After he was able to win the sympathy of the Bathethwa (also pronounced as Mthethwa) chief, Jobe Diginshwayo, who was the son of King Jobe, and was allowed to come to Diginshwayo to find refuge and protection from a life of aimless wandering, Chaka did not take long to impress the king with defeat of rival groups. But it did not take long before Chaka took over the kingdom of Zwibe, Ncube, and that of Dingishwayo after he killed the latter ruler.³⁷ Yet, when Isanusi told him that he could be a greater king if he sacrificed Noliwa, Jobe Dingishwayo's sister whom he married, Chaka blindly plotted her death.³⁸ Later, Chaka further killed indiscriminately, including even his mother.³⁹ Mofolo writes:

After Noliwa's death Chaka underwent a frightful change both in his external appearance and also in his inner being, in his very heart; and so did his aims and his deeds. Firstly, the last spark of humanity still remaining in him was utterly and finally extinguished in the terrible darkness of his heart; his ability to distinguish between war and wanton killing or murder vanished without a trace, so that to him all these things were the same, and he regarded them in the same light. Secondly, his human nature died totally and irretrievably, and a beast-like nature took possession of him; because although he had been a cruel person even before this, he had remained a human being, his cruelty but a human weakness. But a man who has spilt the blood of someone like Noliwa, would understandably regard the blood of his subjects exactly as if it were no different from that of mere animals which we slaughter at will.⁴⁰

Therefore, at the center of Chaka's myth lies the perversity of ruthless and ill-planned nationalism. When it is miscalculated, nationalism, despite its legitimate attempt to unify different ethnic communities into one large group or country, becomes perilous. In this sense, Mofolo raises serious doubt about Chaka's nationalism by even suggesting that it is antithetical to Pan-Africanism. Chaka's nationalism fits with a cultural vision which was based on Isanusi's Machiavellian view of the world, rather than with a true and humane kind of cosmopolitan Pan-Africanism. Chaka's problem was not the lack of a politically justifiable reason for him to create a sense of a nation in the Southern Africa of his time when different

groups needed to be brought together for their collective safety and ability to resist European invasion. As Vincent B. Khapoya argues in his book, *The African Experience: An Introduction* (1998), it even appears that Chaka weakened the power of other Southern African kingdoms, making it easier for Europeans to settle in this part of the African continent.⁴¹ In this sense, even if one must respect Chaka's attempt to rename his acquired kingdom "'Zulu! Mazulu!' (the sky, people of the sky),"⁴² since it could have been a laudable attempt to form a nation among different Southern African groups, one must lament the somber outcome of this Pan-Africanism.

Also, Chaka's naming of his kingdom was driven by more than Pan-Africanism and cultural nationalism, because it was also motivated by ruthless imperial expansionism and the desire to strike fear in other people's hearts. According to Mofolo's account, when Isanusi mockingly laughed at the name Chaka proposed and asked why he chose it, the ruler said:

Mazulu! It is because I am big, I am like that same cloud that just rumbled, before which no one can stand. Likewise, when I look upon other nations, they tremble, and the one upon whom I pounce is wiped out, like Zwide.⁴³

It is ironic that Isanusi is Chaka's first critic when he hears the name of his nation. It is also satirical that Mofolo writes: "All of them [including Isanusi's servants] laughed once more, greatly surprised; and we too are surprised and wonder how great were the desires and the impudence in the heart of this Mokone that he compared himself to the greatness of the heavens! Zulu! Mazulu! Isanusi went away repeating that name over and over."⁴⁴ Therefore, Chaka had the kind of egocentric and self-aggrandizing impulse which led many future African leaders to betray their worthy goals by ending up perceiving themselves as more important than ordinary people they led. Chaka's betrayal of Pan-Africanism stemmed from Isanusi's influence which steered him from the urge "to go by the right path"⁴⁵ that the snake god gave to the future leader in the river of Bokone. In his dealings with Chaka, Isanusi corrupted the snake god's message by leading the future king to embody evil and mercilessness rather than good and compassion.

Sundiata's Pan-Africanism

Like Chaka's, Sundiata's epic is also permeated with literary Pan-Africanism because it is a text about the importance of predestination, exile, personal sacrifice, and unity as means of overcoming oppression. However, unlike Chaka's, Sundiata's epic celebrates these virtues in the main persona's sustained and positive actions and ideals. In comparison to Chaka, Sundiata was a good and decent person who grew up to be a strong, kind, and fair leader, unlike his foil who turned out as a wicked and impartial dictator. By contrast, Sundiata was a conciliatory Pan-African leader rather than a dictatorial one. His method of leadership was based on negotiation and diplomacy instead of torture, force, fear, and intimidation.

Similar trajectories between Chaka and Sundiata

As in Chaka's case, the beginning of the fulfillment of Sundiata's fate unfolds through the intervention of witch doctors. In a similar vein, like Chaka's, Sundiata's manifest destiny unravels through the involvement of many diviners. Also, like Chaka, Sundiata was born from a woman who was likely to be despised due to her supposed social status. Like his

South African equivalent, Sundiata was also brought to the world in extraordinary circumstances in which supernatural forces played an important part.

In Sundiata's story, the hero's birth was foretold by two brother hunters, Oulamba and Oulani, who once came to King Naré Maghan Kon Fatta with a "young girl" from "Do" that they brought to him as a "present," because they "deemed her worthy to be a king's wife."⁴⁶ This woman became the king's spouse and Sundiata's mother.

Yet the history of Sogolon Kedjou also stemmed from a past in which a hunter from Sangaran once met King Naré Maghan and, upon the invitation of the sovereign's courtier, agreed to do a divination for the leader.⁴⁷ Through his reading of cowries, the hunter foretold a new dawn for the kingdom of Mali through the birth of a child. He said,

Oh king, the world is full of mystery, all is hidden and we know nothing but what we can see. The silk-cotton tree springs from a tiny seed—that which defies the tempest weighs in its germ no more than a grain of rice. Kingdoms are like trees; some will be silk-cotton trees, others will remain dwarf palms and the powerful silk-cotton tree will cover them with its shade. Oh, who can recognize in the little child the great king to come? The great comes from the small; truth and falsehood have both suckled at the same breast. Nothing is certain, but, sire, I can see two strangers over there coming towards your city.⁴⁸

Then, the hunter told the king, "King of Mali, destiny marches with great strides, Mali is about to emerge from the night. Nianiba is lighting up, but what is this light that comes from the east."⁴⁹ Next, the diviner predicted the arrival of two hunters to the king's city with a woman. The way in which the hunter described the woman and the child she would bear for the king suggests a form of rhetorical literary Pan-Africanism which is similar to the one that is expressed in how Senzangakhona's encounters with Nandi is portrayed. This pattern is signified in the prophetic way in which Chaka's birth was announced as a new dawn for the kingdoms of South Africa that later became parts of the Zulu empire. Like Chaka's, Sundiata's birth is foretold like the birth of a prophet. Evidence from either the epics or outside research suggests that the mothers of both Chaka and Sundiata were not ordinary in that they came from royal families and had incredible strength. Discussing one aspect of the "epic hero," Ayivor writes: "Chaka's father is King Senzangakhona of the Zulus, and his mother is Princess Nandi, the daughter of Prince Bhebhe of the Langeni."⁵⁰

In Sundiata's epic, one also finds a direct royal lineage of the hero's parents. Early in the narrative, "The buffalo of Do," who appears in human form as Sogolon's mother, tells the two hunters who give her food, to kill her in exchange for their generosity with the condition that they must choose the woman who is called "Sogolon kedjou, or Sogolon Kondouto, because she is a hunchback," when the King of Do, her brother, recompenses them by asking them to select a wife from his town.⁵¹ Sundiata's birth from his mother, Sogolon kedjou, was like Chaka's delivery from Nandi. Both beginnings were predicted in epic terms, as the starting point of a new era for not just Africa, but the world at large. Way before Sundiata's birth, the hunter from Sangaran had told Gnankouman Doua (Naré Maghan's griot and Balla Fasséké's father):

I see two hunters coming to your city; they have come from afar and a woman accompanies them. Oh, that woman! She is ugly, she is hideous, she bears on her back a disgusting hump. Her monstrous eyes seem to have been merely laid on her face, but,

mystery of mysteries, this is the woman you must marry, sire, for she will be the mother of him who will make the name of Mali immortal for ever. The child will be the seventh star, the seventh conqueror of the earth. He will be more mighty than Alexander.⁵²

This quotation suggests the larger-than-life stature that Sundiata was predicted to have brought to Mali. The number 7 is also relevant since, as is indicated in the epic, it was at the age of 7 that Sundiata was able to walk.⁵³ Moreover, this number is important in many world religions and cultures, especially in Judeo-Christianity and Islam where it has various positive meanings.⁵⁴

Another similarity between the epics of Chaka and Sundiata is that the latter text also reflects the moment when the main hero's awakening is depicted in supernatural terms as a new day not just for him but also for his entire nation. In Chaka's epic, the awakening took place during a meeting with Isanusi, his second witch doctor, who transformed him from an innocent person to an ill-willed one. Isanusi lured Chaka to devote himself to the power of the snake god and get supernatural powers over his enemies on the condition that he, Chaka, gave up mercy. When Chaka begged Isanusi to "make me into a great king, one who is independent, to whom all lesser kings owe allegiance,"⁵⁵ Isanusi, the doctor, did many procedures, including cutting a part of Chaka's hair-line and stuffing it into his forehead, and giving him "the medicine of kingship which would make all those who saw him tremble and kneel before him."⁵⁶ This medicine was very powerful because, according to Isanusi, "when he [Chaka] was angry, the faint-hearted would die from fright. His command would be taken so seriously that, if the one commanded delayed in carrying it out, others would tear him apart even while Chaka kept his peace."⁵⁷ It is important to note that Isanusi acted as a responsible and neutral doctor throughout his conversations with Chaka and did not force any ideas on him. He just proposed them and told Chaka what he needed to do in order to have the power from the snake god. But he let Chaka know that having such medicine would take away his free will.

Then, in great suspense, Isanusi completed his conquest of Chaka's heart by dangling in front of his eyes the glimmering promise of glorious kingship if he chose to take, by his own free will, "a medicine associated with the spilling of blood, with killing."⁵⁸ Mofolo writes:

'It is extremely evil, but it is also extremely good. Choose!' The doctor placed matters in Chaka's hands; he told him, without hiding anything from him, that that medicine was truly evil, then he, for his part, stood to one side so that Chaka could act according to his wish.⁵⁹

As soon as Chaka said, "I want it" and, thus, had "deliberately chosen death instead of life," Isanusi took him to a "tree in Bokone," vaccinated him with its deadly blood mixed with "snake poisons,"⁶⁰ and gave him an ointment with which "he must anoint himself" every time he returned from the river.⁶¹ As soon as Chaka took the medicine, Isanusi, following a casual conversation on the reasons why he is called by that name, suggested that Chaka's decision to take the medicine finally constituted a perpetual loss of free will and a permanent pact with "death." First, the healer insisted that Chaka must call him "Isanusi" rather than "doctor," because, he said, "[Isanusi] that is the name I use in addressing the dead, and it is by that name that they know me."⁶² Therefore, Isanusi meant that Chaka had become as part of "the dead" once he took the medicine, although he was physically alive. Thus, the snake god had already owned the soul and free will that Chaka could regain only through

death. Dismissing any doubts Chaka might have had about this pact that would lead the Zulu King to the conquest of the power of Dingishwayo, Isanusi told the future king:

One important matter which I want you to understand well, is that the great king who once visited you at the river is a person who loves war; if you do not spill blood, he will not be pleased with you. Also the medicine with which I have vaccinated you is a medicine of blood; if you do not spill much blood, it will turn against you and kill you instead. Your sole purpose should be to kill without mercy, and thus clear the path that leads to the glory of your kingship.”⁶³

This quotation suggests how Chaka's pact with Isanusi and, by extension, with the snake god, sealed his life and took his free will. From the moments he took Isanusi's two medicines, Chaka realized that he was unalterably conditioned to spread death and destruction for his own sake, which explains the tragic things that he did towards his family, people, and those who ran into him. To call Chaka “dictator” is an understatement because, as Mofolo's novel suggests, he committed every imaginable atrocity, sometimes leading one to wonder if such a cruel leader ever existed in South Africa.

Sundiata

Like Chaka's, Sundiata's epic reflects the trauma of a young child who was ushered by the forced exile and rejection of his mother to return to his homeland although, in the case of the Malian hero, the ordeals did not take place while the future emperor's father was alive. Otherwise, the experiences were quite similar. Like Nandi, Sogolon Kedjou (Sundiata's mother) was forced to leave the royal compound due to a cowife's jealousy, rivalry, and cruelty towards her. Sundiata's power arose from the pain his mother suffered and supernatural circumstances that foretold his rise into a hero. For instance, we learn that Sundiata's power might have come from the fact that he was Sogolon's son and that his mother's mother was the Buffalo of Do that nobody could kill without her willing submission and collaboration. This power transferred to Sogolon Kedjou whose marriage King Naré Maghan could not consummate without scaring the new wife's indomitable spirit.⁶⁴

Besides, like Chaka's, Sundiata's birth was an extraordinary event accentuated with natural phenomena indicating the specialness of the moment. In addition to rambling “thunder,” “swift lightning,” a “strong wind,” one notes how “the rain stopped and the sun appeared and it was at this very moment that a midwife came out of Sogolon's house, ran to the antechamber and announced to Naré Maghan that he was the father of a boy.”⁶⁵ A further parallel between Sundiata and Chaka is noticeable in the fact that when he was born, the future Emperor of Mali faced daily humiliations from his mother's co-wives. Also, like Chaka, Sundiata was teased daily by his childhood peers.

Yet Sundiata's predicament was special since it also had to do with a physical challenge. Sundiata's childhood suffering also stemmed from the abuse of peers due to an infirmity that prevented him to walk for years after he was born. His mother suffered the most as Sassouma Bérété, her co-wife, attempted to make her constantly irate. Sassouma “was quite happy and snapped her fingers at Sogolon, whose child was still crawling on the ground.”⁶⁶ It was during such trials that a miracle occurred in the Kingdom of Niani. The miracle's occurrence is anticipated in one of the most meditative scenes in African literature. The scene is in the passages when Sundiata sits with his back on a hut and his face looking in the sun's direction. Niane writes: “Mari Djata had finished eating and, dragging himself along on

his legs, he came and sat under the wall of the hut for the sun was scorching. What was he thinking about? He alone knew.”⁶⁷ This passage is one of the most memorable literary Pan-Africanisms since it is revisited in many African literary writings and films when characters are torn between various poles and struggle to define themselves, return to their homeland, or reconnect with their past. This moment is also a precursor to those various scenes permeating African literary and visual texts in which main characters are torn between the difficulty of knowing whether to save their people or themselves in the midst of chaos.

Another similarity between the two epics is visible in how, Just like in Chaka's case, Sundiata's father participated in his and his mother's painful lives by demanding or allowing that the mother be expelled from her royal compound. According to the Griot Mamadou Kouyaté, “The disheartened king debarred Sogolon from his house and she lived in semi-disgrace for a while.”⁶⁸ Soon after the king Naré Maghan died perplexed and aggrieved without seeing his son walk, Sassouma Bérété not only further removed Sogolon and her son from the royal compound but later forced them to leave the Kingdom of Niani. However, as the narrator suggests, it is Sogolon who made this decision from a legitimate fear that Sassouma would hurt Sundiata's brother, “Manding Bory, the son of [his father] Naré Maghan's third wife, Namandjé, [who] had no gift of sorcery,” and his sister Sogolon Kolonkan.⁶⁹ Thus, Sundiata's fate was sealed by a desire to restore his and his mother's dignity, which was a drive that one notices more in William C. Faure's film version of *Chaka* than in Mofolo's novel.

Another contrast between Chaka and Sundiata is that the latter's Pan-Africanism was mostly based on cooperation rather than division and abuse. Sundiata's Pan-Africanism is visible early on when he rescued his mother from her co-wife, not for personal gain, but for his whole community's prosperity and moral lesson. Sundiata's Pan-Africanism is further apparent during this mythical and legendary scene in which his griot, Balla Fasséké, narrates how the future king lifted the baobab tree that his mother wanted and placed it in front of her home in Niani. Balla Fasséké said:

Room, room, make room!
The lion has walked;
Hide antelopes,
Get out of his way.⁷⁰

This passage is also a form of literary Pan-Africanism since it suggests a ritual in which a griot exhorted the people to stand aside so that a dignitary, such as a king or queen, could walk in. A similar passage is perceptible in Ousmane Sembene's film, *Ceddo*, in which the character of the Jaraaf (played by Oumar Gueye) walked in and out as he provided diplomatic and oratory praises to the King, Daali, (played by the venerable Makhouradia Gueye), who was about to speak to the people.⁷¹ Once the King sat on his throne, the Jaraaf in *Ceddo* told him in a tone that is reminiscent of Chaka's bloody conception of royalty:

Daali, ton peuple t'écoute.
Ton régime est voulu par Allah.
Ces ceddo qui refusent d'être convertis, sont destinés à bruler en enfer.
Ces gens, esclaves du trône, ont osé porter la main
Sur Dior Yacine, la Linguee, ta fille ainée.
Daali ne soit pas magnanime, ils ont osé te défier.
Daali, décide, ordonne et la terre sera rouge, aujourd'hui de leur sang

[Daali, your people are listening to you.
 Your rule is wanted by Allah.
 These ceddo, who refuse to be converted, are bound to burn in hell.
 These people, slaves of the throne, have dared to lay hand
 on Dior Yacine, the Linguee, who is your eldest daughter.
 Daali, do not be magnanimous; they have dared to defy you.
 Daali, decide, give an order, and the ground will be red today, with their blood].⁷²

The word “Jaraaf” is from the Wolof language of Senegal where, as Francois G. Richard suggests, it meant dignitaries “who were generally chosen from the lineage of the village founder and acted essentially as village heads.”⁷³ The Jaraaf in *Ceddo* has the same roles as a diplomat and an intermediary between a ruler and his people that griots traditionally filled in Senegal. While Jaraafs were supposed to bring good omens to a town, the one in *Ceddo* foreshadows the kinds of brutality that besieged West African kingdoms when Islam, Christianity, and the Atlantic slave trade crippled the continent by turning it into a source of human beings who were forcefully and inhumanely taken abroad as slaves.

Rhetorically, the passage from *Ceddo* is also important because it reflects a form of reverence toward a royalty, resonating with the literary Pan-Africanism that is also apparent in the manner in which the thirteenth century Malian griot, Balla Fasséké, exhorted his future legitimate king, Sundiata, to action. Balla Fasséké told the rising warrior:

Take your bow, Simbon,
 Take your bow and let us go.
 Take your bow, Sogolon Djata.⁷⁴

Yet, unlike the Jaraaf in *Ceddo*, who expected a ruler to simply slaughter those who defied him or her, Balla Fasséké valued respect for human life. Balla Fasséké’s exhortations did not hint at the possibility of killing those who defied a member of Niani’s royal family by usurping their rights. The difference between Balla Fasséké and the Jaraaf is a microscopic representation of the contrast between a Chaka-like leadership, which is based on terror and the subjugation and enslavement of the poor, and that of Sundiata, which is based on the liberation and empowerment of the ordinary people.

Sundiata’s ability to walk brought good omen to his mother Sogolon whose shame and humiliation from Sassouma Bérété’s action were somewhat halted the day her son walked. That day, Sogolon praised her son and God, saying,

Oh day, what a beautiful day,
 Oh day, day of joy;
 Allah Almighty, you never created a finer day.
 So my son is going to walk!⁷⁵

From that point on, Sundiata performed a series of actions which, altogether, represent the kind of good leadership that Pan-Africanism epitomizes. Although he and his close family and Niani were persecuted before his father’s passing, Sundiata remained a calm, yet resolute, leader who brought various armies to his support in an attempt to recapture his kingdom that Soumaoro Kanté, the Sosso king, had invaded during his exile. For about three years, Sundiata and his family traveled to distant lands, ending in the Kingdom of Ghana where

the ruler and his family welcomed them. During that time, Sundiata grew into a more mature man and was appointed “Kan-Koro-Sigui, the king’s viceroy, and in the king’s absence it was he who governed” Ghana.⁷⁶ Later, Sundiata was able to rally the support of many kingdoms and armies that joined him in his successful war against Soumaoro who had conquered Niani. These warriors include Fran Kamara, who Balla Fasséké praises as the King of Tabon “whose iron arm can split ten skulls at a time.”⁷⁷ As the storyteller says,

The griot’s words made Fran Kamara leap up. Sword in hand and mounted on his swift steed he came and stood before Sundiata and said, ‘Maghan Sundiata, I renew my oath to you in the sight of all the Mandingoes gathered together. I pledge myself to conquer or to die by your side. Mali will be free or the smiths of Tabon will be dead.’⁷⁸

Then Balla Fasséké turned to Fran Kamara and his *sofas* (soldiers) as well as to the King of Sibi, who, like other warriors, “fell beside Sundiata”⁷⁹ to declare their readiness to help him recapture Niani and Mali from Soumaoro’s invasion. “Balla Fasséké mentioned all the chiefs by name and they all performed great feats; then the army, confident in its leadership, left Sibi.”⁸⁰

The leadership one finds in Sundiata’s epic is one that opposes the Chaka-like management style which consists of intimidating others and forcing them to submission. Unlike Chaka’s, Sundiata’s leadership epitomizes true Pan-Africanism since it is founded on the effort to bring Africa’s various strong forces to help the downtrodden who are forsaken by dictators. By contrast, Chaka’s leadership is akin to that of Soumaoro, the king who had stolen Balla Fasséké from Sundiata, compelling the Malian griot to extol him as follows: “All hail, you who wear clothes of human skin./I salute you, you who sit on the skins of kings.”⁸¹ These praises reveal Balla Fasséké’s indirect representation of Soumaoro as a king who had no respect for human lives. Soumaoro appeared as a Chaka-like king who had made a contract with the devil, which allowed him to defeat his enemies and be almost impossible to kill until a person with good sorcery like Sundiata defied him. The good sorcery that allowed Sundiata to kill Soumaoro was the spur of a white cock, which Sundiata placed in an arrow with which he fatally shot the Sosso king.⁸² But Sundiata would have been unable to know this secret without the help of his half-sister, Nana-Triban, whom Soumaoro had stolen from their royal compound after he had invaded Niani and forced their brother Dankaran Touman into submission. It was Nana-Triban who had told Sundiata that “The cock’s spur was the Tana of Soumaoro” and had urged him to “try to get near to him” in battle.⁸³ We see here an exemplary form of Pan-Africanism in which the black woman served as a family counselor, a foreign advisor, and a military strategist. Thanks to Nana-Triban’s “tana” [secret] and advice, Sundiata was able to throw an arrow that grazed Soumaoro’s shoulder,⁸⁴ weakening him to the point when he disappeared in a cave leading to a river and was never seen again.⁸⁵ The toppling of Soumaoro’s autocracy is a form of Pan-Africanism that has historical resonance, such as the diplomatic and unified ways in which many African leaders sometimes put their efforts together to restore peace and order in the continent.

The epics of Chaka Zulu and Sundiata Keita are classical African literary works that deserve to be revisited due to the important lessons they teach about the virtues of Pan-Africanism. Through Chaka’s epic, one learns about the hero’s initial incarnation of Pan-Africanism through his defense of his community and his resolve to use his experience from forced exile as a way to restore his right to return to his parents’ homelands. Yet, as the novel progresses, Chaka abandoned such Pan-Africanism, preferring to deploy divisions and brutality as Machiavellian means to crush his opponents and gain power by might rather than by right.

In contrast to Chaka's, Sundiata's epic reveals a hero's steady embrace of Pan-Africanism. From childhood to adulthood, Sundiata remained a sturdy individual and leader who used his natural strength to help his family and the larger community while preparing to claim his right to return to his parents' homelands. Yet, unlike Chaka, Sundiata never abandoned the Pan-African ideals that made him a protector of ordinary people. Sundiata never used force and violence against them, therefore embodying a consultative and inclusive form of Pan-African leadership which was a salient literary Pan-Africanism. The contrasts between Chaka and Sundiata are lessons that contemporary Africans can revisit to turn the tides of neocolonialism and mere pursuit of power. Africans can draw from the two epics' wisdom to develop Pan-Africanist ways of resisting tyranny and surviving for the benefit of all without recourse to unnecessary violence. Doing so will allow modern Africans, especially leaders, to avoid the ongoing neocolonialism that enables the West to continue to dictate Africa's political, economic, and social futures, development, and security.

Notes

- 1 Daniel P. Kunene, "Introduction," in *Chaka*, by Thomas Mpofolo (New York and London: Heinemann, 1981), xii, xiv.
- 2 "Thomas Mokopu Mofolo," accessed March 9, 2019, www.yousigma.com/famouspeople/thomasmokopumofolo.html.
- 3 Donald E. Herdeck, *African Authors: A Companion to Black African Writing 1300–1973* (Washington: Black Orpheus Press, 1973), 241.
- 4 Christel N. Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism: History, Contexts, and Criticism* (Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2005), 4.
- 5 Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, 4.
- 6 Temple, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, 5.
- 7 Paul Gilroy, *The Black Atlantic: Modernity and Double Consciousness* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1993), 4–7; Babacar M'Baye, "Senegalese Immigrant Experiences in the United States," in *Africana Cultures and Policy Studies: Scholarship and the Transformation of Public Policy*, ed. Zachery William (New York: Palgrave, 2009), 226.
- 8 John Cullen Gruesser, *Black on Black: Twentieth-Century African American Writing about Africa*. Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 2000. 6.
- 9 "The Black Scholar Interviews; Walter Rodney," *The Black Scholar* 6, no. 3 (1974): 40.
- 10 Emanuel Geiss, "Pan-Africanism." *Journal of Contemporary History*. Special Issue. 4, no. 1 (January 1969): 189–190.
- 11 Ali Mazrui, "Pan-Africanism and the Intellectuals: Rise, Decline and Revival," in *African Intellectuals: Rethinking Politics, Language, Gender and Development*, ed. Thandika Mkandawire (New York: Zed Books, 2005), 56.
- 12 Thomas Mofolo, *Chaka* (New York and London: Heinemann, 1981), 1.
- 13 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 3.
- 14 Appiah, Kwame Anthony and Henry Louis Gates, Jr., "Shaka (c. 1787–1828)," *The Dictionary of Global Culture* (New York: Knopf, 1997), 590.
- 15 Appiah and Gates, "Shaka," 590.
- 16 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 6.
- 17 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 6.
- 18 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 9–10.
- 19 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 11.
- 20 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 34.
- 21 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 11.
- 22 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 15–20.
- 23 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 27.
- 24 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 14.
- 25 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 15.
- 26 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 15.
- 27 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 24.

- 28 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 30.
- 29 Kwame Ayivor, "Thomas Mopoku Mofolo's 'Inverted Epic Hero': A Reading of Mofolo's 'Chaka' as an African Epic Folktale," *Research in African Literatures* 28, no. 1 (Spring 1997): 53–54.
- 30 Carolyn Hamilton, *Terrific Majesty: The Powers of Shaka Zulu and the Limits of Historical Invention* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1998), 21.
- 31 Appiah and Gates, "Shaka," 590–591.
- 32 Imafedia Okhamafe, "Historical Fabulation as History by Other Means: Shakespeare's and Mofolo's as Opposites in Rubiconesque Leadership," *Existence, Historical Fabulation, Destiny*, ed. Anna-Teresa Tymieniecka (Dordrecht, The Netherlands: Springer, 2009), 53.
- 33 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 77.
- 34 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 95.
- 35 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 96.
- 36 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 41.
- 37 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 99.
- 38 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 101–102, 127.
- 39 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 150.
- 40 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 128.
- 41 Vincent B. Khapoya, *The African Experience: An Introduction* (New Jersey: Prentice Hall, 1998), 225.
- 42 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 103.
- 43 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 103.
- 44 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 103.
- 45 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 24.
- 46 Djibril Tamsir Niane, *Sundiata: An Epic of Old Mali* (Essex: Longman, 1965), 6.
- 47 Niane, *Sundiata*, 4.
- 48 Niane, *Sundiata*, 5.
- 49 Niane, *Sundiata*, 5.
- 50 Ayivor, "Thomas Mopoku Mofolo's 'Inverted Epic Hero,'" 50.
- 51 Niane, *Sundiata*, 8–9.
- 52 Niane, *Sundiata*, 6.
- 53 Niane, *Sundiata*, 18–20; Valerie Hansen and Kenneth Curtis, *Voyages in World History, Volume 1: To 1600* (Boston: CENGAGE, 2010), 310.
- 54 Guy Winch writes:

In the Old Testament the world was created in six days and God rested on the seventh, creating the basis of the seven-day-week we use to this day. In the New Testament the number seven symbolizes the unity of the four corners of the Earth with the Holy Trinity. The number seven is also featured in the Book of Revelation (seven churches, seven angels, seven seals, seven trumpets, and seven stars). The Koran speaks of seven heavens and Muslim pilgrims walk around the Kaaba in Mecca (Islam's most sacred site) seven times. In Hinduism there are seven higher worlds and seven underworlds, and in Buddhism the newborn Buddha rises and takes seven steps.

Guy Winch, "Seven Reasons We Are Captivated by the Number Seven," accessed March 21, 2029, www.psychologytoday.com/us/blog/the-squeaky-wheel/201506/seven-reasons-we-are-captivated-the-number-seven.
- 55 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 41.
- 56 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 42.
- 57 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 42–43.
- 58 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 43.
- 59 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 43.
- 60 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 43.
- 61 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 43–44.
- 62 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 45.
- 63 Mofolo, *Chaka*, 45.
- 64 Niane, *Sundiata*, 12.
- 65 Niane, *Sundiata*, 13.
- 66 Niane, *Sundiata*, 16.
- 67 Niane, *Sundiata*, 20.
- 68 Niane, *Sundiata*, 16.
- 69 Niane, *Sundiata*, 26–27.

- 70 Niane, *Sundiata*, 21.
- 71 Ousmane Sembene, *Ceddo* (Dakar, Senegal: Filmi DoOmi Reew, 1977).
- 72 Sembene, *Ceddo*.
- 73 Francois G. Richard, *Reluctant Landscapes: Historical Anthropologies of Political Experience in Siin, Senegal* (Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 2018), 107.
- 74 Niane, *Sundiata*, 21.
- 75 Niane, *Sundiata*, 21.
- 76 Niane, *Sundiata*, 37.
- 77 Niane, *Sundiata*, 58.
- 78 Niane, *Sundiata*, 58.
- 79 Niane, *Sundiata*, 59.
- 80 Niane, *Sundiata*, 59.
- 81 Niane, *Sundiata*, 40.
- 82 Niane, *Sundiata*, 64, 69.
- 83 Niane, *Sundiata*, 64.
- 84 Niane, *Sundiata*, 65.
- 85 Niane, *Sundiata*, 67.

Bibliography

- “Thomas Mokopu Mofolo.” Accessed March 9, 2019. www.yousigma.com/famouspeople/thomasmokopumofolo.html.
- Appiah, Kwame Anthony and Gates, Jr., Henry Louis. “Shaka (C. 1787–1828).” In *The Dictionary of Global Culture*. Kwame Anthony Appiah and Henry Louis Gates, Jr. edited by. (New York: Knopf, 1997), 590–591.
- Ayivor, Kwame. “Thomas Mopoku Mofolo’s ‘Inverted Epic Hero’: A Reading of Mofolo’s ‘Chaka’ as an African Epic Folktale.” *Research in African Literatures* 28, 1 (Spring, 1997): 43–54.
- Geiss, Emanuel. “Pan-Africanism.” *Journal of Contemporary History. Special Issue*. 4, 1 (January, 1969): 187–200.
- Gilroy, Paul. *The Black Atlantic: modernity and Double Consciousness*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1993.
- Grusser, John Cullen. *Black on Black: twentieth-Century African American Writing about Africa*. Lexington, KY: UP of Kentucky, 2000.
- Hamilton, Carolyn. *Terrific Majesty: the Powers of Shaka Zulu and the Limits of Historical Invention*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1998.
- Hansen, Valerie and Curtis, Kenneth. *Voyages in World History, Volume 1: to 1600*. Boston: Cengage, 2010.
- Herdeck, Donald E. *African Authors: A Companion to Black African Writing 1300–1973*. Washington: Black Orpheus Press, 1973.
- Khapoya, Vincent B. *The African Experience: an Introduction*. New Jersey: Prentice Hall, 1998.
- Kunene, Daniel P. “Introduction.” in *Chaka*, By Thomas Mofolo, xi–xxiii. New York and London: Heinemann, 1981.
- M’Baye, Babacar. “Senegalese Immigrant Experiences in the United States.” In *Africana Cultures and Policy Studies: scholarship and the Transformation of Public Policy*. Zachery William, edited by. New York: Palgrave Macmillan US: Imprint: Palgrave Macmillan, 2009a, 219–246.
- Mazrui, Ali Mazrui. “Pan-africanism and the Intellectuals: rise, Decline and Revival.” in *African Intellectuals: rethinking Politics, Language, Gender and Development*, edited by Thandika Mkandawire, 56–77. New York: Zed Books, 2005.
- Mofolo, Thomas. *Chaka*. New York and London: Heinemann, 1981.
- Niane, Djibril Tamsir. *Sundiata: an Epic of Old Mali*. Essex: Longman, 1965.
- Okhamafe, Imafedia. “Historical Fabulation as History by Other Means: shakespeare’s and Mofolo’s as Opposites in Rubiconesque Leadership.” In *Existence, Historical Fabulation, Destiny*, edited by Anna-Teresa Tymieniecka, 51–76. Dordrecht, The Netherlands: Springer, 2009.
- Richard, Francois G. *Reluctant Landscapes: historical Anthropologies of Political Experience in Siin, Senegal*. Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 2018.
- Rodney, Walter. “The Black Scholar Interviews; Walter Rodney.” *The Black Scholar* 6, 3 (1974): 38–47.
- Sembene, Ousmane. *Ceddo*. Dakar, Senegal: Filmi DoOmi Reew, 1977.
- Temple, Christel N. *Literary Pan-Africanism: history, Contexts, and Criticism*. Durham: Carolina Academic Press, 2005.

Literary Pan-Africanism in Caribbean literature

Kersuze Simeon-Jones

The global Pan-African consciousness of Africans in the Caribbean was forged in the belly of the slave ships. The bond was formed from their awareness of a common horrid circumstance, and the solidarity that must persist in order to bear and surpass their new situation. In foreign lands the communities of multi-ethnic and multi-cultural Africans endured the horrors of slavery as one people (as Africans), but emerged as African Caribbean/Afro-Caribbean by the end of the nominal slavery system. Today, the Afro-Caribbean—similar to the majority of African descendants across the globe—continues to face the lasting political and socio-economic aftermaths of slavery and the various subsequent modes of lasting exploitations. For the purpose of conceptual clarification, it is important to briefly recollect the distinction between the principles and objectives of continental Pan-Africanism in relation to global Pan-Africanism. The continental Pan-African vista of the 1900s sought to politically unify Africa, after the European conquest and their arrogated division of Africa during the Berlin Conference. The random, yet authoritative, geographic split of African communities in 1884–1885, without regard to religion, existing socio-political structures and traditions, made way for a more exploitable Africa. This new level of destabilization of the continent, preceded by the consistent break down of their communities for nearly four hundred years—during the Transatlantic Slave Trade—all created lasting upheaval and conflicts within the continent and among Africans. Thus, continental Pan-Africanism's foremost objective was to ideologically and politically re-unify the continent, for the psychological rehabilitation and material advancement of its inhabitants. Its proponents include Edward Wilmot Blyden (the known ideological father), Kwame Nkrumah, Patrice Émery Lumumba, Ahmed Sékou Touré, and Modibo Keita, to name a few.¹ Global Pan-Africanism is the Pan-African perspective and way of life—among African descendants—that valorize Africa's past. Global Pan-Africanism sought/seek to preserve Africa's cultural traditions (manifested through religion or systems of spirituality, the arts, particularly music, and philosophies of life: political and social); it affirms an African personality, that is the African descendants' ways of conceiving and being in the world, based on both ancient traditions and historical realities of enslavement and continuing disenfranchisement; lastly, it recognizes the fundamental solidarity that must remain in practice between descendants of Africa—across the globe—for rehabilitation from their common inhumane historical circumstances, as well as

for preparation for an equitable future within the global world. This present essay focuses on the illustrations of Pan-African praxis in Afro-Caribbean Literature. The essay studies the migration and exchanges of ideas within the Caribbean and, inescapably, to and from the region. It is worth noting that within the framework of both post-Transatlantic Slave Trade and post Berlin Conference, the ideological predecessor of the 1900's Pan-African movement is the Caribbean-born Edward Wilmot Blyden. In its essence, Garveyism—established by the Caribbean-born Marcus Mosiah Garvey Jr.—is an advanced formulation of Blyden's ideals, postulated in the 1800s. Garvey's Pan-African perspective—through Garveyism—is at once continental (with the focus on Africa) and global.

The historical Pan-African perspective in Caribbean literature

In 1983 Tony Martin published *Literary Garveyism*. Professor Martin's compilation of Garveyist and Pan-African works includes not only African American artists who published in the *Negro World*, it also examines the works of African Caribbean-born artists such as Joel Augustus Rogers' *From Superman to Man* (1917) and René Maran's *Batouala; Véritable Roman Nègre* (1921) (*Batouala; A True Negro Novel*).² Situated in Harlem, the publication organ of the Universal Negro Improvement Association, *Negro World*, championed Pan-Africanist ideology and way of life, as it disseminated the history and discussed the contemporary conditions of African descendants through essays, manifestoes, speeches, poetry, novels, and plays. As the locus of Black internationalism in North America, Harlem—with journals such as *The Crisis* and *Negro World*—nurtured the interrelations of the Afro-Caribbean and the Afro-Hispanic, along with the Afro-Americans and the Africans. It created a space for the development of Pan-African theories, life and works of art. Written by the Afro-Caribbean writer A.J. Rogers, *From Superman to Man* denounced the scathing racism maintained against African Americans—including the various African descendant ethnicities living in the United States. Through his protagonists' conversations—the racist Southern politician and the educated African American Pullman porter—A.J. Rogers sought to contribute to the reparation of centuries-long defamation of African descendants. Maran's *Batouala* is situated in Africa's Ubangi-Shari region. As an Afro-Caribbean working for the French Colonial Service in Equatorial Africa, Maran's novel unveils the destructive impact of colonialism. Cognizant of the dangerous and powerless position into which the majority of Africans and their descendants have been hemmed, Maran addressed his novel to the true French humanists and intellectuals, those not morally and intellectually bankrupt, so they may help influence social change. In his preface to the original 1921 publication Maran articulated the conviction of the colonists/enslavers to maintain the barbarity of the colonial system; Maran also avowed his own efforts to openly denounce their longstanding nefarious systemic behaviors. "I'm appealing to you," he wrote, "in order to set to rights everything the administration designates under the euphemism 'follies.' The fight will be close. You are going to confront slave dealers. It will be harder to fight them than to fight windmills."³ ("C'est à redresser tout ce que l'administration désigne sous l'euphémisme 'd'errements' que je vous convie. La lutte sera serrée. Vous allez affronter des négriers. Il vous sera plus dur de lutter contre eux que contre des moulins ...")⁴ By depicting the injustices and impacts of colonialism in Africa, and by simply saying "what is so," *Batouala*, according to Donald E. Herdeck, "helped prepare the intellectual groundwork for the anti-colonial revolt which was to sweep the post-World War II world."⁵

In addition to the works of influential Caribbean artists, *Negro World* also featured Marcus Garvey's own poems. In his poem *The "Tragedy of White Injustice,"* published in 1927,

Marcus Garvey identifies and analyzes many historical truths. Though Garvey did not view himself as a poet, he used poetry as another mode of expression. The following stanza addresses the reasons for the sabotage of the *Black Star Line* and the general wreckage of the Universal Negro Improvement Association's program (U.N.I.A.). He explains:

The white man controls cable and wireless,
Connections by ships with force and duress:
He keeps black races of the world apart,
So to his schemes they may not be smart:
"There shall be no Black Star Line Ships," he says,
"For that will interfere with our crooked ways:
I'll disrupt their business and all their plans,
So they might not connect with foreign lands."⁶

By pointing out the scheme to keep the "black races of the world apart," Garvey reminds his readers that the uprooting, separation, and scattering of Africans and their descendants throughout foreign lands rendered them vulnerable to the terrorizing violence of the Europeans and, later, the Euro-descendant enslavers and colonists of the Americas. The primary Pan-African effort of Garveyism was the unification of African descendants, in vision, in objectives and program. Garvey recollects the Europeans' and Euro-Americans' staunch hindrances and sabotages to Black economic advancement, and the relentless political strategies to maintain Africans in Africa impoverished and in conflict, while maintaining the majority of African descendants in the Americas disenfranchised, distressed, and destitute. Thus, his "There shall be no Black Star Line Ships" alludes to the systemic restrictions placed on Black businesses, along with the impediments enforced against the success of Black communities and Black nations.

The literary magazine of the National Association for the Advancement of Colored People (NAACP), *The Crisis: A Record of the Darker Races*, also created a space to present or review literary works of African descendants within and outside of the United States of America. Founded by W.E.B. Du Bois in 1910, *The Crisis* educated its readers on major events and publications of the Black world. In September of 1922 Jessie Fauset wrote a review of René Maran's *Batouala* as well as the review of the novel in its English translation—published by Seltzer Publishing Company.⁷ In November of 1922 Du Bois discussed the success of an Anthology on Haitian poetry that covered the time span of 1904 to 1920. Parenthetically, within the context of Caribbean literature it is fitting to underline Du Bois' Caribbean heritage through his Franco-Haitian father. In the "Literature" section of "The Looking Glass" Du Bois wrote:

Louis Morpeau, member of the Society of French Men of Letters and of the Society of French Poets, writes us: The flattering reception which the great Paris newspapers and reviews continue to offer to the "Haitian Anthology of Contemporary Poets (1904–1920)" has induced the very important publishing house, J. Povolozky & Company, in Paris, to ask me to write a book for its Universal Collection of Anthologies, which would afford an account of Haitian poetry from its origins.⁸

The literary time frame to which Du Bois referred, for the "Universal Collection of Anthologies," marked the first stage of Haitian literature, slowly evolving in its characteristics of Caribbean literature; that is, depicting the landscape, the language and the preoccupations

of the people, of the nation and the region. By 1925, with the emergence of the Mouvement Indigéniste, Haiti entered its next phase of literary maturation into Haitian and, by extension, Caribbean literature. The Indigéniste Movement called to attention the value of African traditions within the nation's mores, reflected in its literature. The Pan-African perspective became embedded in the literary works of many Indigéniste writers, amongst whom was the notable poet and activist Jacques Roumain.

In 1945 Jacques Roumain's collection of poems *Bois d'Ebène* (*Ebony Wood*) was published posthumously—he died in 1944. In *Bois d'Ebène* Roumain traces and laments the conditions of the Africans who were coercively dispersed throughout the world. From “Mandingo Arada Bambara Ibo” to “Mandingo Bambara Ibo” to “Bambara Ibo,” progressively becoming one people in their historical circumstances. That Roumain enumerates the ethnicities without any commas further underlines the amalgamation of peoples, of cultures and histories. (When we reached the coast ... there remained of us only Bambara Ibo),⁹ (“quand nous arrivâmes à la côte ... Il ne restait de nous Bamabara Ibo”). Roumain's direct stanzas read as such:

Mandingues Arada Bambara Ibo
gémissant un chant qu'étranglaient les carcans
(et quand nous arrivâmes à la côte
Mandingues Bambara Ibo
quand nous arrivâmes à la côte
Bambara Ibo
Il ne restait de nous Bamabara Ibo
qu'une poignée de grains épars
dans la nuit du semeur de mort)
ce même chant repris aujourd'hui au Congo
mais quand donc ô mon peuple
les hivées en flamme dispersant un orage
d'oiseaux de cendre
reconnaitrai-je la révolte de tes mains?
et que j'écoutai aux Antilles
car ce chant négresse
qui t'enseigna négresse ce chant d'immense
peine

Mais je sais aussi un silence
un silence de vingt-cinq mille cadavres nègres
de vingt-cinq mille traverses de Bois-d'Ebène
Sur les rails du Congo-Océan¹⁰
Mandingo Arada Bambara Ibo
wailing a song strangled by iron collars
(and when we reached the coast
Mandingo Bambara Ibo
when we reached the coast
Bambara Ibo
there remained of us
Bambara Ibo
only a fistful of scattered grains

in the hand of the sower of death)
this same song taken up again today in the Congo
but when then O my people
winter's winds in flames spreading a storm
of flying ashes
will I recognize the rebellion of your hands?
and that I heard in the Antilles
for this song, negress,
who taught you, negress, this song of boundless
affliction
negress of the islands negress of the plantations
this grieving moan

But I also know a silence
a silence of twenty-five thousand negro corpses
twenty-five thousand railroad ties of Ebony Wood
Under the iron rails of the Congo-Océan¹¹

In 1966 the Caribbean writer Aimé Césaire published *Une Saison au Congo* (*A Season in Congo*). The play depicts one of the greatest tragedies of the independence efforts in Africa, nearly one hundred years after foreign partition and direct colonization of the continent, and approximately five hundred years after the Transatlantic Slave Trade that depleted sub-Saharan Africa of significant human brain and power. *Une Saison au Congo* sought to address not only the political and material hindrances placed by European powers—Belgium (Congo-Kinshasa) and France (Congo-Brazzaville) in the case of the Congo—but it also unveils the mental disposition of the African masses and leaders, attempting to emerge out of unsuspecting enslavement, conquest, partition and colonization. With the role and character of Mobutu Sese Seko, Césaire reminds his audience and readers of the detrimental economic-political influence the colonists continue to hold on the greed of their African “collaborators.” Lumumba, who stood for the true freedom and advancement of the African people, was murdered. Mobutu, who collaborated with the Belgian colonial government to facilitate neo-colonialism, acceded to the presidency and remained in power for thirty-two years (1965 to 1997). Lumumba’s philosophies and methods, which called for unity, transcend the Congo to include the unity of the continent and, by extension, the African Diaspora. For Césaire, Lumumba represents a courageous and integral lesson in leadership. Within that framework the stage plays the poet published in the 1960s were conceived to further the progressive awakening of Africans and African descendants. In a 1969 interview Césaire explains his choice of prioritizing theatre during the 1960s. He reasons:

Le monde noir traverse une phase difficile. En particulier avec l'accès à l'indépendance des pays africains, nous sommes entrés dans le moment de la responsabilité. Les noirs désormais doivent faire leur histoire ... On s'interroge soi-même, on essaye de comprendre; or, dans le siècle où nous sommes, la poésie est un langage qui nous paraît plus ou moins ésotérique. Il faut parler clair, parler net, pour faire passer le message. Et il me semble que le théâtre peut s'y prêter—et il s'en prête bien.¹²

The Black world is going through a difficult phase. Particularly with the African countries' attainment of independence, we entered the period of responsibility. Henceforth, blacks must make their history ... We reflect and try to understand; now in this present

century, poetry is a language that seems more or less esoteric. One must speak clearly and concisely to convey the message. It seems that theatre can accomplish the task—and it accomplishes it well.¹³

To that end Césaire's plays are purposively didactic. The eminent poet opts for clear, concise and transparent language to convey the pressing image and message. As examined in *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings of the Black Diaspora*, theatre, for Césaire, operates "as a mirror from which black folk can see themselves through the representation of their ancestors and contemporaries. It is the *donner-à-voir*." Consequently, "the characters in question are alive; spectators hear their voices and observe their actions. Thus, the problems posed are seen in actuality and, as a result, the sensibility of each spectator becomes more acute. It is the *donner-à-penser*."¹⁴ In creating moments where the audience can see (*donner-à-voir*) and reflect (*donner-à-penser*), Césaire contributes to the Pan-African program of historical dialogues and cultural exchanges among people of African descent. It is worth noting that Césaire's *Une Saison au Congo* was translated into English and performed by Anglophone actors, as most of his works are also translated into other languages. In 1963 Césaire published *La Tragédie du Roi Christophe* (*The Tragedy of King Christophe*). Similar to the portrayal of Patrice Lumumba in relation to the African struggles of the late 1950s and 1960s, King Christophe of Haiti came to embody the challenges of a Black leader working to form a newly self-liberated people into a respected nation, while the rest of the Africans in the Americas remained enslaved. "The whole world is watching us, citizens," conveys the fictional King Christophe—as did the factual King Christophe. "[And] the nations think that black men lack dignity! A king, a court, a kingdom, that's what we've got to show them if we want to be respected."¹⁵ ("Le monde entier nous regarde, citoyens, et les peuples pensent que les hommes noirs manquent de dignité! Un roi, une cour, un royaume, voilà, si nous voulons être respectés, ce que nous devrions leur montrer.")¹⁶ Transcending Haiti, Césaire's play lays bare the African diaspora's efforts to re-build its various post-slavery and neo-colonial communities, in the midst of innumerable hindrances. In insisting on recognition from the world, King Christophe illustrates the endeavor to re-establish the Africans in their proper place within the human race; moreover, it exemplifies the distressed—and quasi-insurmountable—predicament of the founding leaders, in a world where Africans and their descendants had been rendered economically and politically powerless.

As exemplified in his writings and political decisions, Césaire's concept of Négritude is a "concrete rather than an abstract coming to consciousness."¹⁷ Négritude writings were preceded—and influenced, to some extent—by bilingual literary journals that made possible the publications of both Francophone and Anglophone writers and artists; those publications, in their original languages and in translation, significantly cross-informed intellectuals of the Black world. The *Revue du monde noir*, created by Francophone Caribbean intellectuals Dr. Léo Sajous and Paulette Nardal, operated from 1931 to 1932; *Légitime Défense*, created by Caribbean intellectuals René Ménénil, Jules Marcel Monnerot, Etienne and Thélus Léro, functioned throughout 1932; and *L'Etudiant Noir*, was launched by Aimé Césaire, Léopold Senghor and Léon Damas in 1934. Those journals founded by Caribbean writers—at the exception of the Senegalese Léopold Senghor—forged a vital dialogical space for Black writers living in France and throughout the African Diaspora; they established a space for the dissemination and development of Pan-African ideology. The term Négritude appeared for the first time in 1939 with the publication of *Cahier d'un Retour au Pays Natal* (*Notebook of a Return to the Native Land*). While *Cahier* remains, arguably, an esoteric piece whose language—at times paradoxical, incongruous, sarcastic, and metonymic—is complex to

apprehend or decipher, it is where Césaire depicts the multi-lingual and multi-ethnic Africans rising up in the slave ship, in spite of the violent presence of armed enslavers. *Cahier* announces not only physical freedom but also psychological revolution. Describing the spirit of mutiny, Césaire writes:

Le négrier craque de toute part ... Son ventre se convulse et résonne ... L'affreux ténia de sa cargaison ronge les boyaux fétides de l'étrange nourrisson des mers!

Et elle est debout la négaille
la négaille assise
inattendument debout
debout dans la cale¹⁸

The slave ship cracks everywhere ... Its belly convulses and resounds ... The gruesome tapeworm of its cargo gnaws the fetid entrails of the strange crib of the seas!

And the negro crowd is up
the negro crown seated
unexpectedly standing
standing up in the hold¹⁹

Cultural Pan-Africanism in Caribbean literature

The writings of the Afro-Cuban poet, Nicolás Guillén, contribute to the cultural Pan-African approach of Caribbean writers. The cultural dimension of Guillén's race and social consciousness grew out the Black international movements of the early 1900s, which were all grounded in Pan-African principles: the international Garveyist Movement, the New Negro Renaissance Movement of African descendants in North America, and the Indigéniste Movement in Haiti. Guillén's friendship and collaboration with Langston Hughes of the United States and Jacques Roumain of Haiti nurtured his poetic Pan-African allegiance and his illustration of Pan-African practice in Hispanic Caribbean life and literature. Though Guillén's official poetic publication started in 1919, in the journal *Camagüey Gráfico*, it is with the publication of his article "Camino de Harlem," followed by his poem *Motivos de son*, that the aesthetics of Black consciousness took form. His works, from the 1930s onward, address the mental disposition and material condition of African descendants in the Caribbean and Latin America. In his "Negro Bembón" (Thick-lipped Negro), published in *Motivos de son* (Motifs of son), Guillén questions:

¿Por qué te pone tan bravo,
cuando te dicen negro bembón,
si tiene la boca senta,
negro bembón?²⁰
Why do you get so upset,
when they call you thick-lipped negro
if your mouth is so sweet
thick-lipped negro?²¹

The repetition of "negro bembón" throughout Guillén's poem relays the process of self-reclamation and affirmation taking place within the African Diaspora, particularly with the

awakening to the “Black is beautiful” reality. “Negro bembón” is “the reiteration of the growing expression of self-esteem and the acceptance of the total Negro,” that; is the total Negro being with his/her multi-dimensional cultures.²² In his poem “Vine en un barco Negrero” (“I came on a slave ship”) published in 1964 Guillén traces the transport of the enslaved Africans to Cuba, their toil and the eventual formation of their Afro-Cuban identity.

Vino en un barco negrero.
Me trajeron.
Caña y látigo el ingenio.
Sol de hierro.
Sudor como caramelo.
Pie en el sepo.

O'Donnell, Su puño seco.
Cuero y cuero
Los alguaciles y el miedo
Cuero y cuero.
De sangre y tina mi cuerpo.
Cuero y cuero.²³
I came on a slave ship.
They brought me.
Cane, lash, and plantation.
A sun of steel.
Sweat like a caramel.
Foot in the stocks

O'Donnell. His dry fist.
Lash and more lash.
The constables and the fear.
Lash and more lash.
My body blood and ink.
Lash and more lash.²⁴

The rhythmic utterances of items associated with the slavery system, as well as the iteration and reiteration of each detail, exhibit the traumatic arrival and experiences of the Africans on foreign land, and their unnerving encounter with the environment and unfamiliar languages. For communication and survival the Africans assembled words from their new common experiences and interactions. The line “[The] constables and the fear” exposes the Africans’ terrorizing realities with the fiendish field enslavers whose “lash and more lash [...] body in blood and ink” were merciless and unending.

In the poem “Twine,” published in his collection *Ancestors*, the Anglophone Afro-Caribbean poet Kamau Brathwaite presents the overworked and physically deteriorating Afro-Caribbean who in old age does not have access to financial compensation, after decades of excessive work for mere subsistence. Out of the shackles of the legalized slavery system, the majority of African descendants of the Caribbean continued (continue) to endure various forms of de facto physical and economic slavery. The poem is the voice of the subject’s lamenting wife, expressed in the common language of the people that Brathwaite termed

“nation language” in his *History of the Voice: The Development of Nation Language in Anglo-phone Caribbean Poetry*.

when de duss in dat warehouse yard brek up e lung
get on bad in e chess. cough wrackle e up like a steel
donkey. most kill e. yu hear. before e did passen good forty
e nevva know what name pension nor compensation
for all dem mornins dat i hads was to get up be
-fore six to mek tea. slice bread. & scrape & butter de crakle
trash. windmill. crack. bubble a vat in de factry
load pun me head. load in de cart. de mill spinnin spinnin spinn
syrup. liquor. blood a de fields. flood a de ages²⁵

Brathwaite’s reference to “a steel donkey” best illustrates the predicament of the masses within the entrenched colonial—neo-colonial—system. The analogy of the masses of rural African descendants as, at once, working farm animal and machine/tools of production imbues Afro-Caribbean literature as well as the literature of African Americans. With deteriorating health, as a consequence of the “warehouse yard brek up e lung,” the worker has no access to medical assistance nor can he retire from the hazardous work. The items simply listed—“syrup. liquor. blood a de fields. flood a de ages”—are factual representations of exploitation. Similar to Guillén’s poem, the brief enumerations help the author depict the subjects’ physical and psychological exhaustion. The ways in which Afro-Caribbean authors employ language in literature unveil the diasporic experiences of the masses, beyond national barriers. Braithwaite’s collection, *Ancestors*, includes poems written in old English, contemporary Standard British English, Caribbean-British English, and Nation Language (the language of the people closest to the Africans’ adaptation of and to the new languages of their new world). In the poem “Twine” Brathwaite gives voice to those who do not have access to education and to Standard English. He gives voice to those who are kept hemmed within the same impoverished condition their ancestors endured. Nation language maintains the structure the Africans—now Afro-Caribbean—first constructed in the new world. In *History of the Voice* Brathwaite explains:

Nation language is the language which is influenced very strongly by the African model, the African aspect of our New World/Caribbean heritage. English it may be in terms of some of its lexical features. But in the contours, its rhythm and timbre, its sound explosions, it is not English, even though the words, as you hear them may be English to a greater or lesser degree.²⁶

Moreover, the use of nation languages—Creole, Patois, etc.—in literature makes possible African diasporic cultural, spiritual, and emotional insights that European languages cannot convey. George Lamming’s *In The Castle of My Skin* is an exemplary novel that illustrates the complexity of language within Caribbean culture. The novel develops through the journey of the protagonists’ childhood (G. or Gaston, Boy Blue, and Trumper). It investigates their understanding and interpretations of the community, and the development of their geographical and historical consciousness, into adulthood. Language is presented as a cultural tension and challenge, as the boys question their level of mastery of Standard English, and the difficulty to translate their quotidian experiences into adequate English expressions that capture their total reality. In the foreword to *In The Castle of My Skin* Sandra Pouchet

Paquet notes that the perceived conflict, in values, between the formal language of the educated colonial and the intuitive, creative, and secret language of the boys emphasizes the text's concern with language as a cultural agency with foundational values and a rich oral tradition.²⁷ In spite of the protagonists' constricted and imbalanced relationship with the various modes of languages in their community, the author succeeded in creating a novel that seamlessly connects languages and experiences. An example of the value attributed to the voice of the masses is exemplified in an exchange between neighbors: the Fosters and the mother of a murdered son.

"What happen to you?" Miss Foster asked.

"My heart break," she said, "me heart break, break, break." The tears flowed and she retched.

"What happen?" Mr. Foster asked.

"My heart break," she said, "my heart break, 'cause my boy dead."

"Who?" Mr. Foster asked.

"Po King," Miss Foster said, "It is Po King who is her son."

"With a bullet," she said, "the gun went to 'is heart." The woman started to cry.....

"They shoot 'im," she said; "they shoot 'im like he was a bird."

"Who?" Mr. Foster insisted.

"The police," she said. "Some say 'twas the white inspector, an' others wus the ordinary police, but he dead."

"Where wus he?" Mr. Foster asked.

"In the tree," he said. "When the law declare they all run here, there an' everywhere, an' poor Po run up the tree. The police see him where he go, an' they aim all together at the top at the tree. An' they got 'im. My poor Po fall down like a bird."²⁸

"The perceived conflict in values" that Lamming portrays through the three boys stems from class relation in the Caribbean, where the European languages have been associated with education and high social status, wealth, and power, while the nation languages created in the Caribbean have been associated with illiteracy, lower social and economic status. Thus, from the early 1900s onward Afro-Caribbean writers have used writings—literary, historical, and theoretical—to re-establish the value of African traditions and the mores of Afro-Caribbean culture, including the perseveration of its oral tradition transmitted through nation languages. In *Caribbean Discourse* (originally published as *Le Discours Antillais*, in 1981) Édouard Glissant makes an observation within the context of Martinique that can be pondered within the context of the greater Caribbean—taking into consideration particular national politics. He examines:

The dilemma is really that we note the absence of both a responsible use of the two languages and a collective exercise in self-expression ... We know ultimately, that at that time the ambiguity of the relationship of French and Creole would disappear and that each Martinican would have access to the sociocultural means of using French without a sense of alienation, of speaking Creole without feeling confined to its limitations.²⁹

In *Gouverneurs de la Rosée* (*Masters of the Dew*) the Indigéniste writer, Jacques Roumain, effectually created a novel written in a Standard French that also portrays and incorporates

the particular linguistic culture of the nation of Haiti; *Gouverneurs* also integrates unaltered Creole expressions as the only applicable language to transmit the organic experiences of the people. Moreover, it is through the language of the people that the author is able to access and illustrate the African descendants' system of divine and spiritual beliefs.³⁰ In chapter IV of the novel *Délira* organized a Vodun ceremony for the return of her son Manuel, the protagonist, who had been living in Cuba for the past fifteen years—in quest of a better living condition abroad. The mother explains to her son:

C'est lui, Papa Legba, qui t'a ouvert le chemin du retour. Clairemise l'a vu en songe, Atibon-Legba, le maître des carrefours. Il nous faut le remercier. J'ai déjà invité la famille et voisinage. Demain tu iras au bourg acheter cinq gallons de *clairin* et deux bouteilles de rhum.³¹

It's he, Papa Legba, who showed you the way home. Clairemise saw him in her dream, Atibon-Legba, Master of the Crossroads. We must thank him. I've already invited the family and the neighbors. Tomorrow you'll go to town to buy five gallons of white rum and two bottles of brown rum.³²

With Roumain's ingenious descriptions his readers are present in Fonds-rouge (the village); the voices are audible, and the images are palpable. The Vodun ceremony highlights the villagers' connection to the ancestral African land, to which they refer as *Guinée*. It is during the ceremonies that they acknowledge and manifest their respect for *the olds of Guinea* ("les vieux de Guinée"). "Dancing this same *Yanvalou*, their fathers had implored the fetishes of Whydah. Now *in these days of distress*, they remembered it with a fidelity that brought back from the night of time the dark powers of the old Dahomey gods."³³ ("Leurs pères avaient imploré les fétiches de Whydah en dansant ce Yanvalou et *en leurs jours de détresse*, ils s'en souvenaient avec une fidélité qui ressuscitait de la nuit des temps la puissance ténébreuse des vieux dieux Dahoméens.")³⁴ In a world of few to no recourse a retreat to their mores becomes spiritual nourishment with which to cope. Roumain presents the inhabitants' system of beliefs within their various cultural references and frameworks. The characters' references to various African ethnicities and regions effectively underline the praxis of cultural Pan-Africanism in the Caribbean. Their multi-ethnic frameworks further demonstrate the syncretism of African legacies into Afro-Caribbean cultures.

Equally significant is Roumain's attention to the position and condition of the black women, the Negresses. The development of the novel unveils their particular circumstances not only in Haiti but throughout the African Diaspora. Akin to Afro-Caribbean writers such as Jamaica Kincaid, Edwidge Danticat, Myriam Warner-Vieyra, Maryse Condé and Suzanne Césaire (to name a few), Roumain's work depicts the strength and vulnerability of the Black woman who contemporarily endures the impact of the slavery system: extreme poverty, minimal access to education, overworked and overburdened with family and community responsibilities. Describing an ordinary instance of *Délira*'s day the narrator observes:

Délira, elle, lavait les plats. Et elle chantait, c'était une chanson semblable à la vie, je veux dire qu'elle était triste: elle n'en connaissait pas d'autres. Elle ne chantait pas fort et c'était une chanson sans mots, à bouche fermée et qui restait dans la gorge comme un gémissement, et pourtant son cœur était apaisé depuis qu'elle avait causé avec manuel, mais il ne savait d'autre *langage* que cette plainte douloureuse, alors que voulez-vous, *elle chantait à la manière des négresses; c'est l'existence qui leur a appris, aux négresses, à chanter comme on étouffe un sanglot* et c'est une chanson qui finit toujours par un recommencement

parce qu'elle est à l'image de la misère, et dites-moi, est-ce que ça finit jamais la misère?³⁵

As for Délira, she was washing dishes, and she was singing. It was a song similar to life—it was sad. She knew no other. She wasn't singing aloud and it was a song without words, sung with closed lips. It stayed in her throat like a moan, yet her heart was eased since her chat with Manuel. Nevertheless, it knew no language other than this sorrowful plaint. *She sang after the fashion of black women. Life has taught black women to sing as though they are choking back a sob*, and it's a song that ends always with a beginning because it's in the image of misery. And does the circle of misery ever end?³⁶

Roumain's illustration of the circularity of misery foreshadows the state of African descendants' masses, globally, well into the twenty-first century. Published immediately before the fifth Pan-African Congress of 1945 *Gouverneurs de la Rosée* is the quintessential Afro-Caribbean Pan-African novel. It evidences the hopes and the struggles of African descendants, with particular attention to foreign appropriation of their land, and the depletion of the Black woman's energy, as the most exploited workforce, or work-tool. With Mister Wilson as the archetype, Roumain illustrates the injustices of foreign appropriation of Haiti's national lands. Mister Wilson, similar to other whites in Haiti, owns vast lands and water; they own the factories and their surroundings. The inhabitants are only workers "who cut the cane for so much and so much. They've got nothing but the strength of their arms, not a handful of soil, not a drop of water—except their own sweat. They all work for Mr. Wilson ..."³⁷ (... "pour couper la canne à tant et tant. Ils n'ont rien que le courage de leurs bras, pas une poignée de terre, pas une goutte d'eau, sinon leur propre sueur. Et tous travaillent pour Mister Wilson ...")³⁸

Ultimately, Manuel succeeded in bringing water to the village to end the drought and help the villagers to a life of, at least, subsistence. In *Gouverneurs* water is illustrated as the representation of life, as all the organisms presented need water to exist. In spite of the life-altering good deed, Manuel was murdered as a direct result of his efforts to stop the decade-long conflict between family members of the village. Symbolically, Manuel's death is significant in relation to the African and African descendant leaders who had died or would later die as a result of their respective commitment to unification, justice, and advancement. Such leaders have also become the exemplary subjects of Afro-Caribbean literary works, for generational lessons of principled and incorruptible leadership; among whom: are Toussaint Louverture, Patrice Lumumba, and King Christophe. Manuel represents and foreshadows (in the case of later leaders such as Lumumba and Malcolm X) the Black leaders who in spite of international and internal hindrances sacrificed their lives for the purpose of re-establishing the value and the rights of African descendants. With the death of the leader, however, there is hope. In *Gouverneurs de la Rosée* the child Manuel conceived with Anaïse (a member of the opposing side of the conflict) symbolizes the future and possible unity within the community. Similarly, in Césaire's *La Tragédie du Roi Christophe* and *Une Saison au Congo* the death of King Christophe and Patrice Lumumba is presented as giving renewed life to the African struggle, *if* the lessons are grasped by succeeding leaders and the people. The association of death, rebirth, and continuity is a fundamental belief in the African's and African descendant's conception of life and existence. Within the context of rebirth and continuity, it is pertinent to recollect and conclude with two affirmations from two foundational Pan-African leaders: Toussaint Louverture who opened the way to physical liberation for all of Africa's descendants, and Marcus Mosiah Garvey who opened the way to psychological liberation for all of Africa's descendants. In 1802 Louverture asserted: "By overthrowing me,

they only cut down the tree of Liberty of blacks; it will re-grow through the roots, for they are profound and numerous.”³⁹ In 1925 Mosiah Garvey asserted

If I die in Atlanta my work shall then only begin, but I shall live, in the physical or spiritual to see the day of Africa’s glory ... with God’s grace, I shall come and bring with me countless millions of black slaves who have died in America and the West Indies and the millions in Africa to aid you in the fight for Liberty, Freedom and Life.⁴⁰

Conclusion

The literary works of Afro-Caribbean writers, living in the Caribbean region or abroad, continue to champion the sociopolitical objectives of Pan-Africanism, as they continue to 1) assert the significance of Afro-Diasporic cultures, and 2) advocate the socioeconomic and human rights of African descendants. Language plays a pivotal role in their literary works; for, the effective use of European languages and the nation languages of the people is a crucial tool to give voice to the inhabitants of the region and their descendants abroad. Pan-African proponents sought to bring attention to the contemporary suffering of predominantly black nations and communities, from the long-standing effects of slavery, colonialism, neo-colonialism and disenfranchisement. The Caribbean novelists and poets illustrate the ways in which the historical ills continue to affect the region: land, and humans. The land, in symbolism with womanhood, revolts “if you mistreat her ...,” as Roumain’s protagonist reminds us, “We betray the soil and receive [its] punishment: drought and poverty and desolation.”⁴¹ (“[La] terre est comme une bonne femme, à force de la maltraiter, elle se révolte ... c’est le nègre qui abandonne la terre et il reçoit sa punition: la sécheresse, la misère et la désolation.”)⁴² Lastly, in *Aimé Césaire: A Voice for History*, the former president of Bénin, Nicéphore Soglo ended with a conviction—within the context of Africa—that many Afro-Caribbean writers have made the efforts to address in their respective works. Soglo maintained that “there will not be a renaissance in Africa without the renaissance of the woman ... without the respect that we owe our mothers, our sisters and our daughters ... that is fundamental.”⁴³ (“Il n’y aura pas de renaissance en Afrique sans la renaissance de la femme ... sans le respect que nous devons à nos mères, nos sœurs et à nos filles ... c’est capital.”)⁴⁴ Moreover, in addition to the respect *are* the opportunities to education and socioeconomic advancement that are due to the Afro-Caribbean girls and women.

Notes

- 1 Kersuze Simeon-Jones, *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings of the Black Diaspora in the Nineteenth and Twentieth Centuries* (Boulder: Lexington Books, 2010), chapter 3 and chapter 9.
- 2 My translation of title.
- 3 René Maran, *Batouala*, trans. Barbara Beck and Alexandre Mboukou (London: Heinemann, 1987), 11.
- 4 René Maran, *Batouala; Vêritable Roman Nègre* (Paris: Albin Michel, Editeur, 1921), 15.
- 5 Maran, *Batouala*, 5.
- 6 Marcus Garvey, *The Poetical Works of Marcus Garvey* (1927), ed. Tony Martin (Dover: The Majority Press, 1983), 18.
- 7 Jessie Fauset, “‘Batouala’ is Translated,” *The Crisis* 24, no. 5 (September 1922): 218–19.
- 8 W.E.B. Du Bois, “The Looking Glass,” *The Crisis* 25, no. 1 (November 1922): 34.
- 9 Translation and transposition mine.

- 10 Jacques Roumain, "Bois D'Ébène," *When the Tom-Tom Beats*, trans. Joanne Fungaroli and Ronald Sauer (Washington D.C.: Azul Editions, 1995), 74.
- 11 Ibid., 75.
- 12 Aimé Césaire, *A Voice for History*, (San Francisco: California Newsreel, 1994).
- 13 Translation mine.
- 14 Simeon-Jones, *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings*, 140.
- 15 Translation mine.
- 16 Aimé Césaire, *La Tragédie du Roi Christophe* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1963), 28.
- 17 Aimé Césaire, *Discours sur le Colonialisme*, trans. Joan Pinkham (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2000), 91.
- 18 Aimé Césaire, *Cahier d'un Retour au Pays Natal* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1983), 61.
- 19 Translation mine.
- 20 Nicolás Guillén, *Sóngoro Cosongo* (Buenos Aires: Editorial Losada, 1952).
- 21 Translation mine.
- 22 Simeon-Jones, *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings*, 168.
- 23 Nicolás Guillén, *Man-Making Words*, trans. Roberto Márquez and David Arthur McMurray (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972), 184.
- 24 Ibid., 186.
- 25 Kamau Brathwaite, *Ancestors* (New York: New Directions Publishing Corporation, 2001), 18.
- 26 Kamau Brathwaite, *History of the Voice: The Development of Nation Language in Anglophone Caribbean Poetry* (London: New Beacon Books, 1984), 13.
- 27 George Lamming, *In The Castle of My Skin* (Ann Arbor: The University of Michigan Press, 1991), xix.
- 28 Ibid., 197–98.
- 29 Edouard Glissant, *Caribbean Discourse: Selected Essays* (Virginia: The University of Virginia Press, 1989), 167.
- 30 Roumain completed *Gouverneurs de la Rosée* in 1943. It was originally published in 1944, after Jacques Roumain's death.
- 31 Jacques Roumain, *Gouverneurs de la Rosée* (Port-au-Prince: Imprimerie de l'État, 1944), 58.
- 32 Jacques Roumain, *Masters of the Dew*, trans. Langston Hughes and Mercer Cook (Oxford: Heinemann Education Publishers, 1947), 64–65.
- 33 Ibid., 67.
- 34 Roumain, *Gouverneurs*, 60.
- 35 Ibid., 97.
- 36 Roumain, *Masters*, 102.
- 37 Ibid., 50.
- 38 Roumain, *Gouverneurs*, 42.
- 39 Simeon-Jones, *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings*, 33.
- 40 Ibid., 45.
- 41 Roumain, *Masters*, 45.
- 42 Roumain, *Gouverneurs*, 37.
- 43 Translation mine.
- 44 Césaire, *A Voice for History*.

Bibliography

- Brathwaite, Edward Kamau. *History of the Voice: the Development of Nation Language in Anglophone Caribbean Poetry*. London: New Beacon Books, 1984.
- Brathwaite, Kamau. *Ancestors*. New York: New Directions Publishing Corporation, 2001.
- Césaire, Aimé. *La Tragédie Du Roi Christophe*. Paris: Présence Africaine, 1963.
- Césaire, Aimé. *Une Saison Au Congo*. Paris: Éditions Seuil, 1967.
- Césaire, Aimé. *Cahier D'un Retour Au Pays Natal*. Paris: Présence Africaine, 1983.
- Césaire, Aimé. *Aimé Césaire: A Voice for History*. San Francisco: California Newsreel, 1994.
- Césaire, Aimé. *Discours Sur Le Colonialisme*. Translated by Joan Pinkham. New York: Monthly Review Press, 2000.
- Du Bois, W.E.B. "The Looking Glass." *The Crisis* 25, 1 (November 1922): 34.

- Fauset, Jessie. "'Batouala' Is Translated." *The Crisis* 24, 5 (September 1922): 218–219.
- Garvey, Marcus. *The Poetical Works of Marcus Garvey*. Edited by Tony Martin. Dover: The Majority Press, 1983.
- Glissant, Édouard. *Caribbean Discourse: selected Essays*. Virginia: The University Press of Virginia, 1989.
- Guillén, Nicolás. *Sóngoro Cosongo; Motivos De Son; West Indies Ltd.; España, Poema En Cuatro Angustias Y Una Esperanza*. Buenos Aires: Editorial Losada, 1952.
- Guillén, Nicolás. *Man-Making Words*. Translated by Roberto Márquez and David Arthur McMurray. Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1972.
- Lamming, George. *In the Castle of My Skin*. Ann Arbor: The University of Michigan Press, 1991.
- Maran, René. *Batouala; Véritable Roman Nègre*. Paris: Albin Michel, Editeur, 1921.
- Maran, René. *Batouala*. Translated by Barbara Beck and Alexandre Mboukou. London: Heinemann, 1987.
- Martin, Tony. *Literary Garveyism*. Dover: The Majority Press, 1983.
- Rogers, Joel Augustus. *From Superman to Man*. Chicago: The Goodspeed Press, 1917.
- Roumain, Jacques. *Gouverneurs De La Rosée*. Port-au-Prince: Imprimerie de l'État, 1944.
- Roumain, Jacques. *Masters of the Dew*. Translated by Langston Hughes and Mercer Cook. Oxford: Heinemann Education Publishers, 1947.
- Roumain, Jacques. *When the Tom-Tom Beats*. Translated by Joanne Fungaroli and Ronald Sauer. Washington D.C.: Azul Editions, 1995.
- Simeon, Kersuze. "Free Poetics, Nation Language in Caribbean Literature." *Journal of Caribbean Studies* 19, 3 (2005): 151–169.
- Simeon-Jones, Kersuze. *Literary and Sociopolitical Writings of the Black Diaspora in the Nineteenth and Twentieth Centuries*. Boulder: Lexington Books, 2010.

“... Black People, come in, wherever you are ...”

Pan-Africanism and Black internationalism in the Black arts movement

Anthony J. Ratcliff

Calling black people
 Calling all black people, man woman child
 Wherever you are, calling you, urgent, come in
 Black People, come in, wherever you are, urgent, calling
 you, calling all black people
 calling all black people, come in, black people, come on¹

Issuing this “SOS” in 1965, shortly after the assassination of Malcolm X, Amiri Baraka (then known as LeRoi Jones) anticipates the *urgency* of the Black Arts and Black Power movements, which began to coalesce both nationally and internationally among radical political and cultural activists in the mid-1960s. He also situates the struggle for Black North American liberation beyond the parameters of the United States, into a global context. By constructing this seven-line free verse poem as a radio broadcast or global distress signal, Baraka articulates a collective and international call-to-action for people of African descent. His political shift from the bohemian-jazz inspired Beat poetry to Black nationalism initially began by his travels to Revolutionary Cuba in 1960 and his participation in the Black nationalist literary group On Guard for Freedom founded by Sarah Wright and Calvin Hicks.² The following year, the poet would be involved in a militant Pan-Africanist protest at the United Nations after Patrice Lumumba’s kidnapping and eventual assassination at the hands of his rivals and imperialist backers in the former Belgian Congo.³

Between 1961 and 1965, Baraka published a number of important literary works that anticipated the burgeoning cultural movement. These pieces include, “The Myth of Negro Literature” (1962), *Blues People: Negro Music in White America* (1963), the plays *The Toilet* (1963), *The Slave* and *Dutchman* (1964) and his polemical essay “The Revolutionary Theater”

(1964). However, it was his move uptown to Harlem in March 1965 following Malcolm X's death and the founding of the Black Arts Repertoire Theatre/School (BARTS), with Larry Neal and other cultural workers, that disparate Black nationalist artistic and political tendencies in Harlem merged into what would become known as the Black Arts Movement. As one of the first poems Baraka wrote after launching BARTS, "SOS" illustrates that from the outset, the Black Arts Movement had an internationalist consciousness developed from earlier Black nationalist and Pan-Africanist legacies. Literary critic Phillip Brian Harper suggests that the poem "embraces all members of the African diaspora, as it is directed explicitly and repeatedly to 'all black people,' thereby invoking a political Pan-Africanism posited as characteristic of the Black Arts project."⁴

The poem's *Pan-African* linkages become even more apparent when one reads Baraka's "SOS" in relation to Léon-Gontran Damas's "SOS" or global distress signal published in his first volume of poetry *Pigments* (1937).⁵ Born in French Guyana in 1912, Damas is recognized as one of the "founding fathers" of Négritude, along with Aimé Césaire and Léopold Sédar Senghor. He issued his "SOS" in response to the brutal treatment of African descendant colonial subjects living in France. It decries how white Frenchmen were "coldly/beating up/knocking down/laying out/the blacks and cutting off their genitals/to make candles for their churches." This poem specifically illustrates the horrors of racial lynching as well as the complicity of European religious institutions to such actions.⁶ In contrast to Baraka's poem, which speaks directly to people of African descent, Damas's speaker appears to be making a protest to the colonial authorities. Nonetheless, taken together, both pieces *begin* to highlight the global consciousness and continual evolution of politico-cultural movements for African and African diasporic unity: from the New Negro/Harlem Renaissance of the 1920s, the Négritude movement of the 1930s and 1940s, through the Black Arts Movement of the 1960s and 1970s.

In this article, I seek to demonstrate the widening international consciousness among Black creative intellectuals affiliated with the Black Arts Movement. This, I argue, was partially evidenced by the increased expression of Pan-African and Third World solidarity in the pages of radical Black "little magazines." Indeed, there had been a long lineage of Black North Americans who recognized the relationship between Black people in the U.S. and those in the diaspora and African continent, from Martin Delany and Marcus Garvey to W. E.B. Du Bois, Paul Robeson, Alphaeus Hunton and the radicals associated with the Council of African Affairs (1937–1955). However, the Cold War and anti-communist witch-hunts of the 1950s succeeded in marginalizing the most radical advocates of Pan-Africanism. In fact, on the eve of the world-historic Bandung (Afro-Asian) Conference in Indonesia in 1955, Du Bois argued that most Black North American leaders had traded "equal status [in America] ... for the slavery of the majority of men." Clearly, the post-World War II civil rights social movement gained momentum in 1955 with the Montgomery Bus Boycott, but Du Bois felt that the focus of integration into the U.S. society as the government intensified its imperialist domination of Third World countries in the Cold War was a dead end.⁷

It is true that during the McCarthy Era there existed a handful of organizations in the U.S. that sought to maintain connections between Black North Americans and Africans. For example, two "Pan-African" groups that started in the 1950s are the American Committee on Africa (founded in 1953) and the American Society of African Culture (AMSAC founded in 1957). However, as historian Penny Von Eschen (1997) notes, in the case of AMSAC, it emphasized cultural exchange at the expense of advocating political solidarity and liberation.⁸ For some Black radical intellectuals, such as Du Bois and his wife Shirley Graham, Hunton, Julian Mayfield, Maya Angelou and others, they chose to expatriate to Ghana after its

independence in 1957 to escape the repression and help actualize Kwame Nkrumah's project of continental Pan-African solidarity.⁹ However, as I suggest in this article, it was in the 1960s that a new generation of Black North American creative intellectuals aligned with the Black Arts/Power movements—namely Askia Muhammad Touré, Larry Neal, Sonia Sanchez, Hoyt Fuller, Sarah Webster Fabio, S.E. Anderson, Alicia Johnson, among others—began to direct their cultural and intellectual production toward the prospects of Pan-African/Third World solidarity and liberation.

A number of these cultural workers published pieces in pre-Black Arts Movement literary and political magazines that established important publishing networks for the nascent politico-cultural movement. Many of these newspapers and magazines began publication in 1961, such as Calvin Hick's *On Guard*, Esther Jackson's *Freedomways*, Dan Watts' *Liberator*, and the Nation of Islam's *Muhammad Speaks*, while the Umbra Writers Workshop initiated *Umbra* in 1962. Though the *Negro Digest* began in 1942 and Hoyt Fuller assumed editorship in 1961 and would change the name to *The African World* in 1969, Kalamu ya Salaam writes that it would remain one of the few pre-BAM little magazines directly aligned with the Black Arts Movement. In fact, most of the creative intellectuals I discuss in this article published either in the *Negro Digest/Black World*, or one of the other little magazines and Black publishing houses founded in the mid-1960s: *Soulbook*, *Black Dialogue*, the *Journal of Black Poetry*, Dudley Randall's Broadside Press or Haki Madhubuti's (then Don L. Lee) Third World Press.¹⁰

“And by the way, the major BAM theorists ... were *rev. nationalists/third world socialists*—not backwards ‘racialists’”

A common misrepresentation of the Black Arts Movement is that its participants were *all* cultural nationalists; an assumption often made by leaders of the Black Panther Party.¹¹ While many well-known BAM activists such as Amiri Baraka and Haki Madhubuti were at one time affiliated with Karenga and openly advocated Black cultural nationalism, other writers such as Askia Touré and Larry Neal were aligned with the revolutionary nationalist formation RAM. Equally problematic, however, is the reduction of all cultural production from the Black Arts era to cultural nationalism. This tendency neglects the influence of RAM, the Black Panther Party, and other avowedly revolutionary (inter)nationalist organizations on the cultural front. For instance, one can find clear revolutionary nationalist sentiments and sympathies in the literary expression of Sam E. Anderson, Charlie Cobb, Nikki Giovanni, Keorapetse Kgositsile, Carol Freeman, Mae Jackson, Alicia Johnson to cite a few. There are also examples of revolutionary poetry and visual art in the pages of the *Liberator*, *Black America*, *Soulbook*, *Black Dialogue*, *Negro Digest/Black World*, and *The Black Panther* among others. Moreover, in a recent interview, Askia Touré specifically attempts to correct the historical record about the movement: “And by the way, the major **BAM** theorists—Larry Neal, Carolyn Fowler, Sarah Fabio, Ernie Allen, Askia Touré—were *Rev. Nationalists/Third World Socialists*—not backwards ‘racialists’!”¹²

Few Black Arts Movement scholars other than James Smethurst and Kalamu ya Salaam identify RAM as an important ideological influence on the foundation of the Black Arts Movement.¹³ This is partially due to the clandestine nature in which cadre members “infiltrated” organizations and because, as I mentioned previously, there is a tendency among scholars to associate Black Arts solely within the parameters of cultural nationalism. However, my interest in exploring RAM's ideological and politico-cultural impact on the Black Arts Movement is not to duplicate the important work done by Smethurst and Salaam. Rather, I hope to extend the discourse around the movement from the local, regional, and

national manifestations they discuss into the broader international arena, where RAM and other revolutionary nationalists often situated their intellectual and cultural production. While RAM's internationalist tendencies were ideologically inspired by Maoism, the Mau Mau uprising, the Bandung movement, the Cuban Revolution and Vietnamese national liberation struggle, according to Muhammad Ahmad, the organization had direct links to radical Black North American internationalists Malcolm X, Robert F. Williams, and Queen Mother Audley Moore.¹⁴

At the same time, though RAM maintained an international approach to revolutionary Black nationalism it did not negate the importance of Black North American cultural expression. Thus, in counter-distinction to Karenga, who assumed that vernacular Black America lacked viable cultural vocabularies, labeling musical forms such as the blues as counterrevolutionary and incapable of mobilizing the masses,¹⁵ RAM theorists observed a revolutionary possibility in Black North American culture, specifically "the Afro-American music of modernists such as Bird, Miles, Trane, etc." By making this claim, Ahmad suggested that it was the responsibility of revolutionary Black Americans to translate "the dynamism embodied in Afro-American music" into "Bandung Humanism" or "Revolutionary Black Internationalism,"¹⁶ a point that Askia Touré further developed in his 1965 essay, "Keep on Pushin: Rhythm & Blues as a Weapon."¹⁷ In actuality, this notion was recognized early on by cultural workers of the Black Arts Movement, who not only crafted literary pieces in tribute to the denizens of jazz, blues, and Black popular music, but also reinterpreted ideas of content, form, and functionality from those musical expressions into their cultural production.¹⁸ What is equally important to consider about the relationship of jazz to the Black Arts Movement is that "New Thing" jazz musicians, such as John Coltrane, Archie Shepp, Yusef Lateef, and Pharoah Sanders, to name a few, explored Pan-African and Third World musical themes and aesthetic forms during the early 1960s, which subsequently raised the international consciousness of other Black cultural workers.¹⁹

Though identifying a dialectical relationship of the Black North American liberation struggle to the Bandung Revolution, RAM nevertheless exclaimed, "America is the Blackman's Battle Ground!" In a programmatic essay of the same name, Ahmad synthesizes the theories of cultural revolution posited by Mao Zedong, Harold Cruse and Malcolm X's OAAU charter, with the call for armed struggle, which he explicated in eight themes of the "Black Cultural Revolution." For Ahmad, the Black Cultural Revolution was not merely an attempt at internally rediscovering lost "African" values and customs. But rather, it was a formulated plan of action that included political and cultural education, national collective consciousness building, the development of Black cultural committees and propaganda organs, and most importantly, a "shock force" or "Black Guard," whose "dual role is to organize resistance against the war in Vietnam, while *simultaneously* organizing guerrilla units, prepared, trained and fit to take our people to a new level." This is one of the clearest attempts of fusing revolutionary nationalism with a cogent cultural analysis that located the basis of revolutionary identity and struggle within the politico-cultural milieu of Black America. Moreover, his conceptualization worked toward harmonizing RAM theory and praxis with Third World revolutionary thinkers, such as Mao Zedong, Ho Chi Minh, and Frantz Fanon, who viewed culture as nationally bound, but imperative for the dialectical development of national and international consciousness.²⁰ While "America is the Black Man's Battleground" did not articulate any special role for writers, in a message to the Black Writers Congress in Montreal, Canada, in 1968, Ahmad specifically posited that "Black writers must see themselves as part of the vanguard of a revolutionary nationalist elite," and

they “must unite nationally and then unite with black writers internationally to become part of a world black congress or black *internationale* dedicated to World Black Power.”²¹

With the objective of influencing the perspective of the Black liberation movement, RAM intellectual-activists Ahmad, Larry Neal, Askia Touré, and Don Freeman took their revolutionary nationalist ideals about political and cultural struggle to the pages of the *Liberator* and other little magazines. Having been developed by Dan Watts following the assassination of Patrice Lumumba in the Congo and subsequent protests at the United Nations by Black radicals of various stripes, the Liberation Committee for Africa began publishing the *Liberator* in 1961. In addition to its early focus on African independence movements, the *Liberator* constituted an important synthesis between Old and New Left Marxism, Black nationalism, civil rights issues, and Pan-African unity.²² What is more, it featured many early pronouncements on Black arts, politics and culture by RAM functionaries, with Larry Neal serving as the magazine’s arts editor from 1964–1966, helping to orient aspiring writers and artists to the insurgent politico-cultural movement. Neal also contributed such pieces for the *Liberator* as “The Cultural Front” (June 1965); “A Reply to Bayard Rustin” (July 1965); “Black Revolution in Music: A Talk with Drummer Milford Graves” (September 1965); “The Black Revolution in Art: A Conversation with Joe Overstreet” (October 1965); and “A Conversation with Archie Shepp” (November 1965).

First announcing the arrival of “The New Afro-American Writer” in the *Liberator*, Askia Touré described the militant generation of “new nationalist”/“Africanist” writers who were challenging the integrationist tendencies of “named” writers such as Ralph Ellison and Richard Wright. Clearly one of the earliest essays to anticipate the emergent Black Arts Movement, Touré traced the roots of “new” nationalism back to Marcus Garvey and the Nation of Islam (NOI). At the same time, he was critical of the NOI’s embracing of “Arab culture” instead of “black African culture.” Interestingly enough, in subsequent years, Touré and a number of other BAM activists would convert to Islam, envisioning it as a counter to Eurocentric political and religious hegemony. Amiri Baraka’s play *Black Mass* (1965) is an early example of the “Islamification” of some Black Arts Movement cultural production, which Melani McAlister details in her study “One Black Allah.” She writes that “from at least 1965 until 1973, [Baraka] and others saw Islam as a primary nationalist cultural resource an authentically black religion that would be central to the requisite development of an alternative black culture and a liberated spirituality.”²³ Nonetheless, in 1963, Touré maintained that while many new Black nationalists had sympathy for the Nation of Islam, they remained distant from its “religious doctrine and rigid discipline.” He concluded the essay by echoing Cruse’s postulation about Black North Americans signifying domestic colonial subjects and suggesting that revolutionary Black nationalism was the most cogent ideology to link North American Blacks with the oppressed masses of the world.²⁴

Building upon this line of reasoning, Touré published four additional essays in the *Liberator* in 1964 and 1965 on the potential for Black revolutionary struggle. The first piece entitled “Unchain the Lion” identified the Black exploited masses, whom he called “Mose” (similar to Fanon’s *lumpenproletariat*), as the “lifeblood” of the Black North American struggle, suggesting that “they’ll NEVER rally to a basically suicidal, masochistic movement such as non-violence in a police state.”²⁵ A few months later, the *Liberator* published “Toward Repudiating Western Values,” in which Touré criticized the race and class allegiances of bourgeois nationalists and “Negro Liberals” for assimilating Eurocentric cultural values and “white middle-class ideals.” He specifically challenged the belief that

integration into a capitalist system would somehow liberate the masses of Afro-descendants:

I would remind Bourgeois Nationalists that this exploitative system has enslaved three-quarters of mankind (our Asian, African, and Latin American brothers), so that for black America to take its (capitalist) place in white America's mainstream helps to perpetuate this evil system.²⁶

In order to counter this, Touré argues that Black revolutionary nationalists had to “strive to develop a revolutionary soul—total psychic unity with the masses of our people.” Furthermore, it was imperative to “hitch the wagon of Black America” to “the Universal Age of Bandung (Asia, Africa, and Latin America), [which was] bringing with it new values and ideals of Universal Humanism and Justice.”²⁷ Touré translated these political ideals into a poem entitled “Song of Fire,” published in RAM's journal *Black America* in 1964 and later in the anthology *Black Fire* (1968), which was one of the first poems to depict urban rebellions in North America as a part of the struggle for national liberation and related to “the Universal Age of Bandung:”

Tears that weep for shattered Sunday schools
are lost
like diamonds leaving ebon hands—among the dark
South African sands: lost-lost...and never found!
Save your tears! Save your anguished cries!
Save your prayers to barren, silent skies:
Wait—wait awhile!
For soon the Dawn will come to men once more—
and Buddha's eyes will smile from burning
saffron robes and charred pagodas—
Shango
will shout his rumbling song to
joyous Congo tom-toms...in the night.
Allah
will send his flaming sword a whistling
through the “chosen land”...and bellow:
Free-dom! Free-dom!
Here comes the Rising Sun!
And HERE...my twenty-million, tortured,
chosen children:
your day will come!

This poem invokes the imagery of Eastern deities such as Buddha, Shango, and Allah responding joyously to the revolutionary “Rising Sun” of anti-colonial liberation. Employing occasional internal and end rhyme couplets, Touré locates emancipation not in “prayers to barren, silent skies,” but in the self-determination of the oppressed masses. There is little question that the narrator embraces outright revolutionary violence, especially in response to the violent bombings that “shattered Sunday schools,” killing four black girls (Addie Mae Collins, Denise McNair, Carole Roberston, and Cynthia Wesley) in Birmingham, Alabama, in 1963.²⁸ Moreover, Touré identifies the Black North American freedom struggle, and its

growing radicalization evidenced by urban rebellions, as a component part of the Third World revolution, a point he raised in the adjacent essay “Long Hot Summer.”²⁹

In February 1965, the *Liberator* featured another of Touré’s essays entitled “Afro American Youth and the Bandung World,” which synthesized his previous criticisms of bourgeois reformism/nationalism, with assertions that Black Americans were subjects of domestic colonialism, support for armed self-defense, and advocacy of anti-imperialist Third World struggles. Similar to other theoretical essays written by RAM cadre at this time, Touré now envisioned Black youth as the vanguard of revolutionary movements.³⁰ Referring to Black North American youth as “new people,” he argues “they have developed new attitudes and outlooks concerning the future role of Black America in world society.” Touré continued by suggesting that young Black North American revolutionaries were repudiating both the bourgeois reformism of civil rights leaders as well as the “escapist” bourgeois nationalist “Back to Africa” or “separate states” schemes, “to embrace the ‘Bandung’ world, and link up Black America’s struggle with the former colonial peoples.”³¹

A major theoretical shift in this essay from his previous three was the fact that he specifically identified U.S. imperialism—“in the form of gigantic corporations, gigantic banks, trusts, and mining interests”—as the main threat against Black North Americans and Third World peoples. Touré noted that the present state of “Bourgeois Democracy” was merely a façade and that the forces behind monopoly-capitalism, with the support of the military-industrial complex, would soon implement a Fascist dictatorship. Therefore, “Black America must not wait!” he concludes. “She must link her struggle with those of her former colonial brothers, and led by the emerging vanguard of militant youth—rooted in the people: organize and prepare to survive the Final War: Armageddon!” While his final essay published in the *Liberator* in 1965 entitled “Keep on Pushin’” focused more particularly on Black North American music as revolutionary praxis, it nevertheless maintained his signature tone and international perspective. Through his essays, revolutionary poetry, politico-cultural activism, and later co-editorship at *Black Dialogue* and *The Journal of Black Poetry*, Askia Muhammad Touré remained an important advocate of situating the Black Arts Movement as an aspect of the anti-imperialist Bandung World.³²

RAM cadre in California also helped influence the shape and international perspective of the Black Arts Movement with their production of *Soulbook*. Self-described as the “quarterly journal of revolutionary Afroamerica,” Donald Freeman and his brother Kenn Freeman, Isaac Moore, Ernest Allen, Jr., Carroll Holmes, and Bobb Hamilton began the publication in winter 1964. By its second issue in spring 1965, Bobby Seale, future co-founder of the Black Panther Party for Self Defense had become *Soulbook*’s printer and distribution manager. During its run, *Soulbook* was one of the first Black journals in North America to publish translations of Frantz Fanon’s major works on anti-colonialism and Third World revolution, as well as communiqués by Robert F. Williams in-exile and theoretical essays by former Black Communist Party stalwart Harry Haywood on revolutionary nationalism.³³ These ideas were also incorporated into the published essays on anti-imperialism, economics, jazz, and literature featured in the journal. Moreover, each issue of the little magazine featured a section entitled “Reject Notes,” which published poetry by many BAM cultural workers, such as Ernie Allen, Ed Bullins, Carol Freeman, Keorapetse Kgositsile, Clarence Major, Larry Neal, Patricia Parker, Sonia Sanchez, Askia Touré, Shirley A. Williams, and Marvin X among others.

Having assembled while members of the Bay Area’s Afro-American Association (AAA), the editors addressed the premier volume “To the Peoples of Afroamerica, Africa, and to all the Peoples of the World:”

We the Editors of SOULBOOK subscribe to the view expressed by the great Black martyr Patrice Lumumba that, ‘...without dignity there is no liberty, without justice there is no dignity, and without independence there are no free men.’ Furthermore, we adhere to the view that it will take a radical socio-economic transformation within the United States before the freedom of the Black man in the U.S., the Congo, and anywhere else the victims of racial discrimination have been maimed...Thus to further the cause of the liberation of Black peoples we feel that this Journal and all ensuing issues of it must be produced, controlled, published and edited by people who are sons and daughters of Africa.³⁴

By recognizing the interconnectedness of Black North American and Pan-African/Third World liberation struggles, the need to combat the *common* enemy of U.S. capitalist-imperialism, while also insuring that the journal remain completely *produced* by Afro-descendants, the editors of *Soulbook* expressed a revolutionary nationalist tendency similar to RAM’s core philosophies.³⁵ Additionally, in the first issue alone five of the eight pieces explored the national liberation movements occurring in Africa, specifically the Congolese “civil war,” in a section of the journal entitled “Africana.”³⁶ Continuing its focus on Pan-African solidarity, ensuing issues featured articles about the African National Congress (Spring 1965), “Africa, China and the U.S.” by Cheikh-anta Diop (Fall 1965), African liberation movements in the Portuguese colonies (Winter 1965/66), and the overthrow of Kwame Nkrumah (Summer 1966). The editors also introduced their readership to political and cultural issues of the broader African Diaspora with a series of bilingual essays about the Puerto Rican nationalist movement by Alfredo Peña (Fall 1965 & Winter 1965–66), translated poetry by Nicolás Guillén and Aimé Césaire (Fall 1965), an analysis of revolutionary activists in Haiti by Paul Lantimo (Summer 1966), and Carlos Moore’s “Cuba: The Untold Story, part 1” (Summer/Fall 1968).³⁷

Though not ideologically bound to revolutionary nationalism, the editors of *Black Dialogue* were nonetheless committed to international Black solidarity and politico-cultural struggle. Founded in 1965 by Arthur Sheridan, Abdul Karim, Edward Spriggs and members of the Black Students Union at San Francisco State College, the little magazine was developed as “a meeting place for voices of the Black community—wherever that community may exist.” According to Abby A. Johnson and Ronald M. Johnson (1979), *Black Dialogue* embodied a more “dialogic” philosophy toward Black liberation than *Soulbook*, by publishing a diverse array of political, literary, and cultural perspectives, even though there was considerable overlap in contributors.³⁸ Between 1965 and 1968—prior to its relocation to New York City—*Black Dialogue* featured political pieces about Malcolm X (April 1965 and Winter 1967/68); the Us Organization (Autumn 1966); the Black Panther Party’s “Free Huey” Newton campaign (Winter 1967/68); and Askia Touré’s “Letter to Ed Spriggs,” criticizing what he saw as Amiri Baraka’s “Reactionary Super-Blackism” (Winter 1967/68). The little magazine also maintained a Third World outlook with essays on the prospects of economic unity in Africa (July–August 1965); Frantz Fanon’s ideological influence on Black North Americans (Winter 1966); the Arab-Israel conflict (Winter 1967/68); and U.S. militarism in the Dominican Republic and Vietnam (July–August 1965). Furthermore, by Winter 1966, the journal had also established an international presence designating Joseph Seward as its first African editor.³⁹

At the same time, *Black Dialogue* remained an indispensable cultural conduit for the Black Arts Movement. It included many of the era’s foremost cultural workers in essays on jazz, theater, and visual arts; plays by Ed Bullins, Marvin X, and Dorothy Ahmad; as well as

a poetry section entitled “Soul Street..New Black Poets,” edited by Joe Goncalves, who in 1966 developed *The Journal of Black Poetry*. A few of the BAM poets published in *Black Dialogue* were Larry Neal, Amiri Baraka, De Leon Harrison, Welton Smith, Patricia Bullins, Rudy Bee Graham, Joe Goncalves, Marvin X, Ed Spriggs, Clarence Major, and Ahmed Legraham Alhamisi. What is more, the little magazine extended the scope of BAM internationally in its printing of essays about Négritude, as well as works by a number of African and African Diasporic poets, such as Alphonse Ngoma’s “Tom-Tom: on the death of Patrice Lumumba” (July-August 1965), David Diop’s “The Vultures” and “The Renegade” (Winter 1966), Aimé Césaire’s “The Tornado” (Autumn 1966), and Keorapetse Kgositsile’s “Bleached Callouses, Africa, 1966” (Winter 1967/68).

Through his poetry and essays in *Black Dialogue*, *Soulbook*, and elsewhere, Kgositsile, an exiled South African poet-activist aligned with the African National Congress (ANC), represented a direct connection between Afro-North America and African liberation movements. He identified the Pan-Africanist implications of poetry as “movement. Force. Creative power. The walk of the Sophiatown tsotsi or my Harlem brothers on Lenox Avenue. Field hollers. The Blues. A Trane riff. Marvin Gaye or mbaqandga.” Referring more specifically to the motivation for his poetry, which was the yearning for freedom held by oppressed Black masses globally, Kgositsile declared, Mine is an international black language summoning the power of millions of indignant black people for the final destruction (symbolic or real) of any agency that denies the world love. This is the rumbling of the inevitable fury of millions of black people sick and tired of the role European refugees made them play for centuries.⁴⁰

His poems “Carbon Copy Whiteman,” “Inherent and Inherited Mistrusts,” “For Afroamerica,” “Flirtation,” and the aforementioned “Bleached Callouses” featured in *Soulbook* and *Black Dialogue*, between 1965 and 1967, respectively, contemplate African and Black North American history, memory, and political struggle. “For Afroamerica” written in commemoration of the Watts Rebellion in 1965, Kgositsile envisions “Patrice and Malcolm/in your step as you/dance near the sun/your hand outstretched/to embrace that long/deferred day so close.” Here, he references the martyred Pan-African freedom fighters Patrice Lumumba and Malcolm X as inspirations for the radicalized Black North American movement. He also alludes to Langston Hughes’ earlier poem “A Dream Deferred” in the lines “Now/there will be no ifs/red-lipped dreams too/damned long deferred/explode.” Though Hughes’ poem holds out some hope that the racial situation in the U.S. could change before the “dream” exploded, writing after the Watts Rebellion, Kgositsile suggests that the explosion already symbolized emergent “volcanoes” that would ultimately overrun North America.⁴¹

Black arts cultural workers envision the black liberation struggle

Numerous poets affiliated with the Black Arts Movement shared the opinion that Watts and the ensuing urban rebellions of the mid-1960s represented a burgeoning Black revolutionary consciousness among the masses. They envisioned that the “long hot summers” of 1965 through 1968, where hundreds of urban rebellions disrupted most major cities in the U.S. illustrated the emergence of a protracted war of national liberation and foretold of the impending demise of the modern *empire* known as the United States of America. Moreover, RAM theorists specifically believed that the uprisings were the domestic manifestation of the Bandung Revolution, directly connecting them to the national liberation struggles in Vietnam and Africa, and that millions of Black North Americans would study the lessons of

Watts and elsewhere, to “develop a more comprehensive and formidable Paramilitary Strategy and Tactics.”⁴² The U.S. government also felt that the urban rebellions signified a “calculated design of agitators, militants organizations, or lawless elements” with the intent of overthrowing the system. Subsequently, numerous state and national commissions, poverty programs, congressional hearings, and counterintelligence measures, such as the FBI’s “Ghetto Informant Program” were instituted in the late 1960s to quell what the government believed was an impending revolution.⁴³

This assertion intensified following the assassination of Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr., on April 4, 1968 in Memphis, Tennessee, while he supported striking Black sanitation workers. As news spread about Dr. King’s murder, urban rebellions erupted in over 100 cities throughout North America, which poet Johnie Scott, of the Watts Writers Workshop, describes as “World War 3” with “the burning of modern Romes:/Harlem/Watts/Detroit/Philadelphia/Chicago/Newark/Washington, D.C.”⁴⁴ Also, Quincy Troupe, who was a comrade of Scott’s in the Watts Writer’s Workshop, pondered the revolutionary impact of inner-city uprisings. His composition “White Weekend,” which like Scott’s “The American Dream” was published in Clarence Major’s anthology *The New Black Poetry* (1969), recalls the unrest following Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr.’s assassination, where over “76 cities [were] in flames on the landscape/and the bearer of peace/lying still in Atlanta ... /Lamentations! Lamentations! Lamentations!/Worldwide!/But in New York, on Wall Street/the stock market went up 18 points ...”⁴⁵ As influential members of the Watts Writers Workshop, which itself had been organized “From the Ashes” of the Watts Rebellion in 1965, Scott, Troupe, and other writers in the workshop sought to redirect the rage of young Blacks in Los Angeles into local and national struggles for racial and economic justice.⁴⁶

Askia Touré’s aforementioned poem “Song of Fire,” published prior to the rebellions in Harlem (1964), Watts (1965) and the hundreds in the wake of Dr. King’s assassination, is important because it anticipates many of the tropes that radical cultural workers would continue to revisit about the revolutionary nationalist potential of urban rebellions. For instance, his assertion that the unrest illustrated the complete repudiation of nonviolent integration and a turn toward Third World liberation was a theme in many poems about ghetto uprisings. Another metaphor that Askia Touré utilized to describe ghetto uprisings is a “Rising Sun,” which in addition to symbolizing the epistemological shift toward the East, it connotes the awakening of *the people* as a *burning mass*.

The portrayal of rebellions as burning masses was reinterpreted as “volcanoes,” as Kgositsile depicts them, or more commonly as “fire.” Sam E. Anderson, for example, a poet and founding member of the Black Panther Party in Harlem, wrote “A New Dance,” about urban rebellions and the “cleansing fire” of revolution that “spreads from city to city/to country to country/to world,” admonishing the reader to “dance the Blackflame dance.”⁴⁷ Also, a popular phrase attributed to the Watts and other rebellions invoking the trope of “fire” is “Burn, Baby, Burn,” which was a catchphrase coined by the Magnificent Montague, a disk jockey from Chicago who was based in Watts at the time of the rebellion. Though his initial utilization of the term described the moment “when I’m playing the record and I am snapping my fingers and I’m talking my talk, I have reached the epitome, the height,” it more than any other statement came to signify the uprisings of the late 1960s.⁴⁸ In the fall 1965 issue, *Soulbook* published Marvin X’s (then Marvin Jackmon) poem “Burn, Baby, Burn,” where the speaker explicates many of the causations of the unrest, such as enslavement, both physical and mental, external economic exploitation, and police brutality. He also references other popular phrases of the day, from Fannie Lou Hammer’s “Sick an Tired,/Tired of being/Sick and Tired,” to Elijah Muhammad’s assertion that Black North

Americans were “Lost in the/wilderness/Of white america.” Throughout much of the poem, the narrator employs lyrical Black American Vernacular English and end-rhyme couplets, such as

Git all dat motherfuckin pluck,
Git dem guns too, we ‘on’t give
a fuck!
...Burn, baby, burn
In time
He
will learn.⁴⁹

These lines anticipate what Carolyn Rodgers of OBAC describes as *rappin’* poems emblematic of Gil Scott Heron, the Last Poets, the Watts Prophets, and others who are widely recognized as precursors to contemporary Hip-Hop emcees.⁵⁰ Worth Long, a SNCC activist and poet from Atlanta, revisits the trope “Burn Baby Burn” in his “Arson and Cold Lace (or how i yearn to Burn Baby Burn)” first published in the *Umbra Anthology* in 1967 and reprinted in Major’s *The New Black Poetry*. As with Marvin X’s piece, Long envisions urban rebellions as the beginning of revolutionary struggle. This poem speaks directly to “False faced America” (read: whites) informing it of its hypocrisy. He also employs alliteration and consonance throughout the poem to emphasize frustration and the urgency of the moment. Moreover, Long repeats a number of words and phrases, such as “False farmers” and “We have found you out” to highlight the consternation felt by Black North Americans due to the government’s continued oppression. However, the speaker defines urban rebellions as a form of retribution, which he calls “The sparks of suspicion/[that] Are melting your waters/and water can’t drown them/ These fires a-burning/and firemen can’t calm them ... /Hot flames must devour/The kneeling and fleeing/and torture the masters ...”⁵¹

The notion that urban rebellions were preparation for future revolutionary violence found poetic voice in the pages of more commercial Black little magazines as well. Zach Gilbert published the first poem about the Watts Rebellion in *Negro Digest* in December 1965. Gilbert, a poet from Chicago better known for his verses about the civil rights movement, exemplifies the radical shift that events like Watts would have on many Black cultural workers.⁵² The speaker in his poem “For Watts” describes the rebellion as “[t]he day the volcano erupted,” in which “the volcano” serves as a metaphor of the repressed frustrations of working-class Blacks from Watts (and other cities) bursting in a “Bomb of blood/No more to be/Ignored.” Here, Gilbert’s notion that the Black masses in Watts (and elsewhere) asserted themselves onto the historical stage shares much in common with C.L.R. James’ postulation that “ordinary people” makes history.⁵³

Describing an Black North American revolutionary struggle as “The Long March” (1968), which alludes to Mao Zedong’s historic march across China, Chicago poet Alicia Johnson’s rebellion begins ten years in the future (1978) as the “black innocence marches/ left ... /right ... /left ... /right ...” raining destruction on “industrial urban cities/watts-slaughtshon-chicago ... /throughout the north american continent,” and demanding reparations rather than food rations: “SAVE THE BEANS/GIVE US THE GREENS.” While the “50,000,000 strong marched/over/the atlantic/to europe ... /across asia” the “children of the SUN-GOD” (Black North Americans) are joined by “the people of the moon-god” (Middle Easterners) and a host of Third World “poet-politicians,” reciting “poems of

freeman/CONFUCIOUS' analects," such as Ho Chi Minh, Thich Nhat Hanh, and Mao. Here, she links the desires for self-determination held by Black revolutionary nationalists with Bandung national liberation struggles, which she then extends to the wars for independence and against neo-colonialism in "M-O-T-H-E-R" Africa. It is at this point where the tone of Johnson's poem shifts, meditating on the ontological sustenance that Black North Americans would receive once reconnected with Mother Africa as well as the reciprocal necessity of their contribution to armed struggle against the racist colonial regimes of Southern Africa:

we ran like a child we ran
standing with apron-land in hand
we ran to her
entering beneath her apron hem
smith's front door:
beating brains
crushing nuts
of all the afrikaaners i hate
most is
vorster's dutch guts.
up to the west
cameroon & ghana
to the east
uganda & kenya
to the north pass the sahara
WE RESTED
breathless WE RESTED

As "The Long March" reaches its apogee in 1988—ten years after its initiation—and the mass of militants has exponentially grown the speaker is able to die with the knowledge that the "SUN-GOD" has once again "set on MOTHER'S breast." Similar to Touré's "Song of Fire," there is an embracing of Eastern philosophies, such as Buddhism, Confucius, Islam, and various African spiritual teachings, which serve as counter-measures to the hegemony of Western Christianity on Black North Americans. Then again, in both poems, *reality* and *myth* are intertwined in revolutionary poetic verses that envision the transformation of modern societies through militant self-determination, as is signified in Johnson's repetition of the motto "SAVE THE BEANS/GIVE US THE GREENS," not by the intervention of supernatural entities.⁵⁴

Contemporary struggles for Black and African descendant self-determination and liberation were waged within the liminal space between past, present, and future. Though returning to a mythic time before enslavement or colonialism was impossible, re-establishing some consciousness of past cultural and social concepts helped to challenge white supremacist notions that Africa and its descendants had no usable philosophies in which to base their modern nations/identities. At the same time, it was important to recognize the complexity of Africa and the African Diaspora by observing the specificities of their cultures. As Amiri Baraka, Frantz Fanon, Askia Touré, Larry Neal, Sonia Sanchez, Abbey Lincoln, Toni Cade Bambara, and other theorists posited, the basis for any viable revolutionary culture had to be located in the *popular* culture (consciousness) of the masses. Observing the national specificities and diversity of Black North American and African peoples was equally imperative if a viable movement for Pan-Africanism was going to take shape. With these ideas in mind and strengthened by the

imagination and possibilities engendered by newly independent African nation-states, a number of Afro-descendant cultural workers and intellectuals attended the First World Festival of Negro Arts and Culture in 1966 and the First Pan-African Cultural Festival in 1969 hoping to build an international and transformative Black Arts Movement.

Notes

- 1 Amiri Baraka (LeRoi Jones) "SOS," *Black Magic: Sabotage, Target Study and Black Art, Collected Poetry, 1961–1969*, (Indianapolis, Bobbs-Merrill, 1969).
- 2 Organized by On Guard for Freedom and the Fair Play for Cuba Committee, Baraka's trip to Cuba also included the writers Julian Mayfield and Harold Cruse, as well as the militant civil rights leader Robert F. Williams. In his essay "Cuba Libre," Baraka (then LeRoi Jones) explains the importance of his trip to Cuba in 1961 and how it radicalized his art and politics. See, *Home: Social Essays*, (New York: Apollo Editions, 1966): 11–62. Other scholars who make a similar claim are Peniel Joseph, "Dashikis and Democracy: Black Studies, Student Activism, and the Black Power Movement," *The Journal of African American History*, 88.2, (Spring 2003): 184, and Cynthia Young, *Soul Power: Culture, Radicalism, and the Making of a U.S. Third World Left*, (Durham: Duke University Press, 2006), chapter 1.
- 3 Amiri Baraka, "The Black Arts Movement," *The LeRoi Jones/Amiri Baraka Reader*, (New York: Thunder Mouth's Press, 1999): 495.
- 4 Phillip Brian Harper, "Nationalism and Social Division in Black Arts Poetry of the 1960s," in *Is It Nation Time? Contemporary Essays on Black Power and Black Nationalism*, ed. Eddie S. Glaude, Jr., (Chicago: The University of Chicago Press, 2002): 165–166.
- 5 Nagueyalti Warren, "Pan-African Cultural Movements: From Baraka to Karenga," *The Journal of Negro History*, 75.1/2 (Winter-Spring 1990): 20.
- 6 Leon Damas, "S.O.S." published in *Pigments*, (Paris: Présence Africaine, c. 1937/1972).
- 7 Du Bois, "American Negroes and Africa," *National Guardian*, February 14, 1955. As it appeared that most African Americans were distancing themselves from internationalism, the Bandung Conference in April 1955 signified the confluence of African and Asian anti-colonial movements and their desire to self-determination, which impressed Du Bois.
- 8 Penny Von Eschen in *Race Against Empire: Black Americans and Anticolonialism, 1937–1957*, (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1997) argues that AMSAC specifically described "its goal as defending 'the great cultural contributions of man against the perversions of political, economic and national movements'" (175).
- 9 St. Clair Drake points out that up until 1958 there existed two main tendencies of Pan-Africanism: racial and missionary. But with the independence of Ghana in 1957, and Nkrumah's All African People's Congress in 1958, the emphasis shifted toward continental Pan-Africanism. See, Drake, "Negro Americans and African Interest," in *The American Negro Reference Book*, eds. John P. Davis, (Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall, 1966): 693. For the most detailed study of Black North American expatriation to Ghana, see, Kevin Gaines, *American Africans in Ghana: Black Expatriates and the Civil Rights Era*, (Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 2007).
- 10 Kalamu ya Salaam, "Historical Overviews of the Black Arts Movement," *The Oxford Companion to African American Literature*, (New York: Oxford UP, 1997).
- 11 Not only did Bobby Seale refer to Amiri Baraka and artists around the Black House as cultural nationalists, but on numerous occasions in his memoir *Seize the Time*, he went further to describe the West Coast Revolutionary Action Movement (RAM) as "cultural nationalists," "bastards," and "shits," pp. 24–25, 31, 63, and 115. Also, Clarke, *After Mecca*, describes BAM solely within the context of "black cultural nationalism," p. 14, as does Van DeBurg, *New Day in Babylon*, p. 181.
- 12 See, "Rudy Interviews Askia Touré: On *Dawnsong!* And the Black Arts Movement, Part I," *Chick-enbones: A Journal for Literary & Artistic African-American Themes*. Other important poet-revolutionaries were Marcelino Dos Santos, vice president of FRELIMO; Mario de Andrade, founder of MLPA; Agostinho Neto, president of MLPA; Onesimo Silveira of PAIGC; Ho Chi Minh, president of the Democratic Republic of Vietnam; and Sekou Touré, president of the Republic of Guinea.

- 13 Smethurst discusses RAM's relationship to the Black Arts movement in, *The Black Arts Movement* (2005): 158–171; and Salaam, "The Black Arts Movement," <http://authors.aalbc.com/blackartsmovement.htm>.
- 14 In Muhammad Ahmad's *We Will Return in the Whirlwind: Black Radical Organizations, 1960–1975*, (Chicago: Charles H. Kerr, 2007), he suggests that Malcolm X "agreed to become the spokesman of RAM but felt his role should remain secret because the United States intelligence apparatus would become alarmed about his connection with Robert Williams, who was in exile in Cuba," p. 124.
- 15 Smethurst, *The Black Arts Movement*, 57–58.
- 16 Ahmad, "The Relationship of Revolutionary Afro-American Movement to the Bandung Revolution, *Black America*, Summer-Fall 1965. Though RAM generally closed their essays with "Unite or Perish," throughout 1965, they ended some communiqués with the salutation "Keep on Pushin', Change is Gonna Come," riffing on the popular R&B songs from Curtis Mayfield's *The Impressions* and Sam Cook, respectively. See, *Black Power Papers III*.
- 17 Askia Touré asserted, "Somewhere along the line, the 'Keep On Pushin' in song, in Rhythm and Blues is merging with the Revolutionary Dynamism of COLTRANE of ERIC DOLPHY of BROTHER MALCOLM of YOUNG BLACK GUERRILLAS STRIKING DEEP INTO THE HEARTLAND OF THE WESTERN EMPIRE. The Fire is spreading, the Fire is spreading, the Fire made from the merging of dynamic Black Music (Rhythm and Blues, Jazz, with politics (GUERRILLA WARFARE) is spreading like black oil flaming in Atlantic shipwrecks spreading like Black Fire..." See, "Keep on Pushin': Rhythm & Blues as a Weapon," *Liberator*, (October 1965): 7–8.
- 18 Beginning with Amiri Baraka's (LeRoi Jones), *Blues People* (1963), and continuing with essays by Larry Neal "Black Revolution in Music," *Liberator*, (September 1965) and "A Conversation with Archie Shepp," *Liberator* (November 1965), Touré's aforementioned "Keep On Pushin'," Alvin Morrell, "Notes on the Avant-Garde: A Brief Perspective of Black Music in the United States," *Soulbook*, (Winter 1965/66), Roland Young, "The Need to Develop a Revolutionary Consciousness," *Soulbook*, (Winter 1965/66), and A.B. Spellman's *Four Lives in the Be Bop Business* (New York: Pantheon Books, 1966), are early examples of Black Arts affiliated intellectuals that established links between the developing "New Thing" movement in music and Black nationalist literary workers. Moreover, Smethurst argues, "Black Arts writing, particularly poetry, and the theorization of a usable cultural past based on black music often had a dialectical relationship," pp. 66–67.
- 19 Jazz has historically been an important reservoir of Pan-African themes and forms. John Bracey notes that U.S.-based jazz musicians had begun working with Cuban and African musicians in the 1930s and 1940s specifically Cuban percussionists, such as Chano Pozo, Candido, Machito, Patato Valdez, and Mongo Santamaria. These and other Afro-Cuban musicians recorded with Black American jazz musicians Dizzy Gillespie, Duke Ellington, Kenny Dorham and others. See, Smethurst, *The Black Arts Movement*, p. 272. In the 1940s, a handful of musicians began incorporating elements of African and Middle Eastern culture/music into jazz, influenced by Art Blakey's "pilgrimage" to Nigeria where he converted to Islam, as well as the conversion of Ahmad Jamal, Yusef Lateef, and other Black North American musicians to the Muslim faith. See, Richard B. Turner, *Islam in the African American Experience*, (Bloomington, IN: Indiana University Press, 1997/2003): xix–xx and 138–141.
- 20 Ahmad, "America is the Blackman's Battle Ground!" (1967) in *Black Power Papers III*.
- 21 Ahmad, "Message to Black Writers Conference," October 25–26, 1968, Montreal, Canada, in *Black Power Papers III*.
- 22 For the most in-depth examination of *Liberator* to date, see Chris Tinson, "The Voice of the Black Protest Movement: Notes on the Liberator Magazine and Black Radicalism in the Early 1960s," *The Black Scholar*. 37.4 (Winter 2008): 3–15.
- 23 Melani McAlister, "One Black Allah: The Middle East in the Cultural Politics of African American Liberation, 1955–1970," *American Quarterly* 51.3 (1999): 624.
- 24 Askia Touré (Snellings), "The New Afro-American Writer," *Liberator*, (October 1963): 10.
- 25 Touré (Snellings), "Unchain the Lion," *Liberator*, (July 1964): 20–21.
- 26 Touré, "Toward Repudiating Western Values," *Liberator*, (November 1964): 11.
- 27 *Ibid*, 26.
- 28 Touré, "Song of Fire," *Black America*, (Fall 1964): 15.

- 29 Touré, "Long Hot Summer," *Black America*, (Fall 1964): 13–14.
- 30 For two articles by RAM theorists that envision Black youth as central to any revolutionary movement, see Don Freeman, "Nationalist Student Conference," *Liberator*, (July 1964): 18; and Muhammad Ahmad's "Revolutionary Nationalism and the Afroamerican Student," *Liberator*, (January 1965): 13–15.
- 31 Touré, "Afro American Youth and the Bandung World," *Liberator*, (February 1965): 6.
- 32 *Ibid*, p. 7.
- 33 In addition to the essays and communiqués by and about Fanon and Williams, the Fall 1965 issue of the journal describes Fanon as the *Nihil obstat*, and Robert F. Williams (RAM) as the *Imprimatur*, which are terms associated with the hierarchy of the Catholic Church, p. 150. Also, Harry Haywood's first contribution to the journal was "The Two Epochs of Nation Development: Is Black Nationalism a form of Classical Nationalism," *Soulbook*, (Winter 1965/66): 257–266.
- 34 Editors, "To the Peoples of Afroamerica, Africa, and to all the Peoples of the World," *Soulbook*, (Winter 1964): 1. Moreover, the editorial made clear the journal's political "commitment" in dedicating its "publication to Felix Moumié, Medgar Evers, Reuben Um Nyobé, the six child-martyrs of the Birmingham bombings of 1963, Patrice Lumumba, Ronald Stokes, Antonio Maceo, the dead Freedom Fighters of Kenya and Algeria, and the endless number of other known and unknown Black Freedom Fighters who have been gunned down by the imperialist oppressors in Afroamerica, Africa, Latin America and Asia," *Ibid*, p. 2.
- 35 See, "Projects and Problems of the Revolutionary Movement," May-June 1964, in Black Power Papers III.
- 36 "In each issue of SOULBOOK there will be a selection from the African press concerning some controversial subject in Africa," (Winter 1964): 21–23. However, this section only seems to have been continued in the Spring 1965 issue with the article, "Apartheid is Doomed!" p. 143.
- 37 *Soulbook* did not publish part 2 of Moore's essay on Cuba and racial problems until the Spring/Summer 1969 issue, after almost a year publication hiatus due to changes in editorial staff and direction. See, (Spring/Summer 1969): 319.
- 38 Abby Arthur Johnson & Ronald Maberry Johnson, *Propaganda and Aesthetics The Literary Politics of African-American Magazines in the Twentieth Century*, (Amherst: The University of Massachusetts Press, 1979): 161–200.
- 39 See, *Black Dialogue* editorial page, (Winter 1966).
- 40 See, Keorapetse Kgositsile, "The Impulse is Personal," *Negro Digest*, (July 1968): 42–43.
- 41 Kgositsile, "For Afroamerica," *Soulbook*, (Summer 1966): 43.
- 42 RAM theorists argued that the struggle of Afroamerican have-nots would aid and be aided by the Bandung struggles for national liberation. "This revolution will pose the supreme crisis for the United States Government (American Fascist State Power) because the American military establishment cannot subdue synchronized Bandung Wars of National Liberation and the African-american Struggle for National Liberation simultaneously. American military forces will be forced to withdraw from Asia, Africa, and Latin America to the United States. Then the Bandung revolutionaries can help immobilize the over-extended American military apparatus by following these forces in "hot pursuit." See, Don Freeman and Muhammad Ahmad, "The Present Situation and the Struggle for Black State Power," May 1965, in RAM Papers. Also see, Ahmed, *We Will Return in the Whirlwind*, p. 145.
- 43 McCone Commission, "Violence in the City: An End or a Beginning," Governor's Commission on the Los Angeles Riots, December 1965; National Advisory Commission on Civil Disorders, *1968 Report on the National Advisory Commission on Civil Disorders*, (New York: Bantam Books, 1968); "Riots, Civil And Criminal Disorders," Hearings Before the Permanent Subcommittee on Investigations of the Committee on Government Operations, United States Senate, Ninety-First Congress, March 4, 1969; and U.S. Senate, Supplementary Detailed Staff Reports on Intelligence Activities and the Rights of Americans, April 23, 1976.
- 44 Johnie Scott, "The American Dream," in *The New Black Poetry*, ed. Clarence Majors, (New York: International Publishers, 1969): 115–119.
- 45 Quincy Troupe, "White Weekend," *Ibid*, 128.
- 46 Eric Gordon, "Fortifying Community: African American History and Culture in Leimert Park," in *Sons and Daughters of Los: Culture and Community in L.A.*, ed. David James (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2003): 63–84 and Smethurst, *The Black Arts Movement*, p. 248.
- 47 S.E. Anderson, "A New Dance," *The New Black Poetry*, p. 23.

- 48 Nathaniel Montague, *Burn, Baby! Burn!: The Autobiography of Magnificent Montague*, (Champaign, IL: University of Illinois Press, 2003): xiv.
- 49 Marvin X (Jackmon), "Burn, Baby, Burn," *Soulbook*, (Fall 1965): 153.
- 50 Carolyn Rodgers, "Black Poetry—Where Its At," *Negro Digest* (September 1969).
- 51 Worth Long, "Arson and Cold Lace" in *Umbra Anthology* (1967–1968): 13; and *The New Black Poetry*: 84–85.
- 52 In an April 1965 symposium published in *Negro Digest*, Gilbert maintained that the "individuality" of the Black writer was the most important aspect of his/her work. "Without art the protest is lost, the message unimportant." See, "The Task of the Negro Writer as Artist," *Negro Digest*, (April 1965): 56.
- 53 Zack Gilbert, "For Watts," *Negro Digest*, (Dec. 1965): 21.
- 54 Alicia Johnson, "The Long March," *Presence Africaine*, 68 (4th Quarterly, 1968): 97–100.

Maya Angelou's Afrocentric journalism

A contribution to Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance

Simphiwe Sesanti

Background and introduction

The year 2019 marked Maya Angelou's fifth anniversary of her departure on May 28, 2014, to the Ancestors' Abode. Born on April 4, 1928 in the United States of America (USA), she is famous as a singer, poet, dancer and actress. Little is known, though, about her revolutionary commitment to Pan-Africanism, an ideological framework advocating the unity and complete liberation of African people – in the continent and in the diaspora. She declared herself a “devout Nkrumaist” (Angelou 2008b, 93). Kwame Nkrumah was a Pan-Africanist and independent Ghana's first head of state. In the 1950s, after a number of years in the entertainment field, Angelou decided to stop performing in clubs for unappreciating audiences, where the non-existence of dressing rooms compelled her to change in the women's toilet, while people she admired were doing important things such as performing jazz concerts on liberation themes (Angelou 2008e, 54). Henceforth, she would “never again work to make people smile inanely and would take on the responsibility of making them think,” as a demonstration of her “own seriousness” (ibid). Her first act of seriousness was to organise a show with fellow artists, called “Cabaret for Freedom,” to raise funds for Martin Luther King, Jr's Southern Christian Leadership Conference (SCLC) after attending King, Jr's fundraising talk (Angelou 2008e, 66; 81). She was inspired to act after hearing King, Jr proclaiming that “black people, the most displaced, the poorest, the most maligned and scourged [...] had the glorious task of reclaiming the soul” (Angelou 2008e, 69). Angelou's commanding presence, her leadership skills during the organising of the Cabaret for Freedom, drew admiration from the SCLC's officials and, consequently, she was offered a job as the SCLC's coordinator, resulting in a meeting with Martin Luther King, Jr, in person (Angelou 2008e, 110; 115). In 1960, she was one of the few women who formed the Cultural Association for Women of African Heritage (CAWAH), whose “intention was to support all black civil rights groups” in the USA (Angelou 2008e, 181). CAWAH, whose membership constituted artists, aimed to offer its services to raise money in order to “promote and publicize any gathering sincerely engaged in developing a just society” (ibid).

CAWAH planned to host fashion shows featuring African themes and African designs (Angelou 2008e, 182). An objection was noted about the irony of “black folks [in Harlem] *meeting in white hotels to talk about how rotten white folks are* (emphasis added)” (ibid)

Angelou’s approach was informed by her observation that in the early years of the twentieth century, “[m]any black as well as white Americans were equally ignorant of both African history and African culture” (Angelou 1998, 13). This ignorance was a consequence of deliberate misrepresentation of history aimed at justifying dehumanising Africans the world over (Angelou 1998, 15). Knowing that as long as slaves continued speaking their African languages, they would retain memories of their greatness, Africans were “forced by the lash to speak another language,” so as to be “unable to convey the stories of their own people, their deeds, rituals, religions and beliefs” (Angelou 1998, 15). African slaves were “even exiled from drums, instruments of instruction, ceremony and entertainment of their homeland” (ibid). Consequently, the “slaves too began to believe what their masters believed: Africa was a continent of savages,” and, consequently, “African history and culture [became] shrouded in centuries of guilt and ignorance and shame” (Angelou 1998, 15). Except for a few who knew better, “the African at home (on the continent) was seen as a caricature of nature; so it followed that the Africans abroad (blacks everywhere) were better only because of their encounters with whites” (Angelou 1998, 15–16). The association of everything good with white people, and everything ugly with black people, inflicted a deep sense of an inferiority complex in black people’s minds to an extent that many, especially the educated black middle class, sought to disassociate themselves from everything African, and identified themselves with everything white. For instance, “in the Negro community of 1953” the phrase, “as uncouth as an African” was “used to describe a loud and uncaring person” (Angelou 2008d, 98). This self-contempt confronted Maya Angelou when she went to teach dance in a “progressive American Negro (the word was acceptable then) cultural center” (Angelou 1998, 14):

I was engaged as dance instructor, and lasted two weeks. The black middle-class families whose children were in my class protested in one voice, “Why is she teaching African dance to our children? We haven’t lost anything in Africa.” (ibid).

It was these experiences which inspired Angelou to make a conscious decision to rediscover her African cultural heritage and advance it as a basis to reclaim African people’s freedom and dignity wherever they are in the world. The reclamation of African cultural heritage for the purposes of African liberation is called the African Renaissance.

This chapter, by interrogating Maya Angelou’s series of seven biographical works, demonstrates that through her writings, she not only recorded the injustices visited by white supremacists on African people the world over, but also celebrated Africans’ resistance and resilience, particularly the struggle to hold on to their African cultural heritage against efforts to make them the white world’s cultural appendages in an effort to destroy African cultural identity. This journalistic approach on Angelou’s part was Afrocentric, Afrocentricity being defined as a cultural framework that promotes and celebrates Africans’ engagement with the world and other members of the human race on their own terms, employing perspectives informed by African history and culture, as experienced and defined by Africans (Asante 2003, 3). Firstly, I trace Angelou’s influences on the birth of her political consciousness,

In the belly of the beast: birth of a revolutionary consciousness

Angelou’s revolutionary consciousness was born in the USA where she had observed that being black meant “living inside a skin that was hated or feared by the majority of one’s

fellow citizens” (Angelou 2008d, 301). As a child she realised that even a social activity such as sport had huge implications for Black people’s dignity. She lived to witness and to document how the boxing match between Joe Louis and Primo Carnera, represented not only a contestation between two individuals, but a war between Blacks and Whites (Angelou 2007, 146). The prospect of Louis losing could, for Black humanity, represent “the end of the world” (ibid):

If Joe lost we were back in slavery and beyond help. It would all be true, the accusations that we were lower types of human beings. Only a little higher than the apes. True that we were stupid and ugly and lazy and dirty and, unlucky and worst of all, that God Himself hated us and ordained us to be hewers of wood and drawers of water, forever and ever, world without end (ibid).

But Joe Louis’ fists hit so hard and landed Carnera on the boxing ring’s floor, his arms and legs being so weak, he could not get up to face Louis.

Angelou (2008d, 32) had heard tales of how, during slavery, “all whites, including the poor and ignorant, had the right to speak rudely to and even physically abuse any Negro they met.” She was stung by pain on seeing the grandmother she loved, respected and looked up to, disrespectfully referred to by her first name by little white girls while she, in return addressed them by honorifics (Angelou 2007, 34–35). She came face to face with the nakedness of white racism and felt the “heavy burden of Blackness” when she saw a white dentist telling her grandmother, that she would not relieve Maya from her excruciating tooth ache because his policy was against treating “nigra (sic), colored people,” adding that he would “rather stick [his] hand in a dog’s mouth than in a nigger’s” (Angelou 2007, 202–203).

For asserting her dignity by demanding to be treated with respect by a white saleswoman in her shop, she was slapped several times by her grandmother, who received a call about the incident, consequently packing her clothes and sending Angelou from Arkansas to San Francisco, fearing that Arkansas’ racist whites would retaliate by attacking and violating her body, or even worse, killing her (Angelou 2008c, 97–98). If tables could be turned at that instant, she would “gladly have consigned every white person living and the millions dead to a hell where the devil was blacker than their fears of blackness and more cruel than forced starvation” (Angelou 2008c, 99). She had learnt from her great-grandmother, who had been a slave, that some white slave masters even forbade their slaves from holding prayer meetings, thus compelling them to communicate with the Supreme Being in secrecy “on pain of being lashed” (Angelou 2008d, 37).

Seeds of revolutionary consciousness were planted in her mind by her mother, Vivian Baxter, at the early age of 13. She inculcated in her a sense of an anti-exploitation, a pro-justice attitude and humility, by teaching her and his brother, Bailey, that the domestic helper in their house was a “worker, not a slave,” and that they would, therefore, clean their own rooms and respect him (Angelou 2013, 29). She drummed it in her mind to treat everyone right (Angelou 2008d, 165)

Angelou’s mother taught her daughter that human beings, like animals, could smell fear and exploited it to their advantage and that, therefore, she should never let another person know that she was afraid (Angelou 2008e, 31). She taught her to do what she thought was right, and be ready to back it up even with her life (Angelou 2013, 139). Angelou’s moment to concretise her Pan-Africanism came in January 1961 with the tragic assassination

of Patrice Lumumba, a Pan-Africanist and the Congo's first democratically elected Prime Minister.

Angelou embraces and advocates Pan-Africanism

The CAWAH decided on a protest action at the United Nations' offices in New York (Angelou 2008e, 186). Disagreements within the CAWAH gave a clear indication that some African-Americans who identified themselves with black people's freedom struggles, did not necessarily identify their struggles within the context of Pan-Africanism (Angelou 2008e, 186). Some within the CAWAH expressed the view that they saw the CAWAH as being limited to supporting the black American civil rights' struggles, and that taking on the African continent's colonial struggles was swallowing too much (ibid). While one CAWAH member said that such a narrow approach was a "stupid attitude" and that "what happens in Africa affects every black American," another CAWAH member said that the "only thing Africans had really done for us was to sell our ancestors into slavery" (Angelou 2008e, 186–187). The pro-Lumumba march prevailed and exceeded even the organisers' expectations who were not expecting more than fifty people, when thousands turned up, carrying placards reading "Freedom Now," "Back to Africa," and "Africa for the Africans," and marched not only to the UN's office, but also to the Belgian Consulate, Belgium having been the Congo's colonising country (Angelou 2008e, 194; 201; 211). The large turn-out of the African-American community was a clear reflection of their Pan-African solidarity with their sisters and brothers in the African continent (Angelou 2008e, 183).

After six months of working for the SCLC, Angelou resigned, preparing to go to Egypt where her husband, Vusi Make, the then Pan Africanist Congress' (PAC) chairperson, a banned liberation movement in South Africa, represented his party (Angelou 2008e, 152). She overcame her agonising dilemma of leaving King, Jr, and her "own struggle," by reasoning that "all the black struggles were one, with one enemy and one goal" – an expression of Pan-Africanism (Angelou 2008e, 144). Accepting Make's marriage proposal was a political commitment, her future with him being a "realm of struggle and eternal victory" (Angelou 2008e, 151). Marriage to a freedom fighter meant getting her son, Guy, a "strong, black, politically aware father" (Angelou 2008e, 152). She was convinced that "it would be difficult if not impossible to raise a black boy in a racist society" that the USA was. To her discomfort, though, she soon discovered that while her revolutionary Pan-Africanist husband, was committed against racial inequality, he was not anti-gender inequality.

When Angelou told Make that she had been invited to participate in a play called *The Blacks*, without even finding out what she thought, Make told her that "[n]o wife of an African leader can go on the stage [...] being examined by the whites" (Angelou 2008e, 220). But after Make had been invited by Max Glanville, *The Blacks*' stage manager, reading the manuscript, Make decided and told Angelou that if she was still wanted she "must do this play" (ibid). This was nothing other than what Angelou called an "attitude of total control" by her husband (ibid). Make saw nothing wrong with his attitude because his distorted version of African culture gave African men the right to control their women. As a "wife" of "an African," Make expected Angelou to obey him under any circumstances (Angelou 2008e, 236). When Angelou, sought and found a job in Cairo as the *Arab Observer's* associate editor, with the help of David DuBois, the son of William DuBois, the Pan-Africanist, Make was enraged by Angelou's taking of the job "without consulting" him (read "asking for his permission"), and asked her if she was "a man" (read "having a right to make *independent decisions*") (Angelou 2008e, 285; 287). After calling her names, Make told Angelou that

she “must call DuBois and explain” that she “acted as an American woman,” but that after returning home, he had “reminded” her that she was “now [...] an African wife” (Angelou 2008e, 288), meaning that African women, unlike American women, were submissive creatures. Angelou would have none of Make’s distorted version of African culture. Giving Make her “body and loyalty,” had not “included all the rights to [her] life” (Angelou 2008e, 220). Moreover, Make’s notion of an “African woman” was not the same as that of the African women she had met in London, and “the legendary women in the African stories” she had read about (Angelou 2008e, 180). The African women Angelou met in London were African freedom fighters’ wives who were accompanying their husbands attending a conference (Angelou 2008e, 170). She heard one of the African women boldly asking:

What are we here for? Why are African women sitting eating, trying to act cute while African men are discussing serious questions and African children are starving? Have we come to London just to *convenience our husbands? Have we been brought here only as a portable pussy?* (emphasis added) (Angelou 2008e, 171)

In response to this rhetorical question, a woman from Kenya pointed out that in Kenya, women were not just “wombs,” and had demonstrated in the struggles waged by Mau-Mau guerillas that they had “ideas as well as babies” (ibid). A woman from Sierra Leone had pointed out that in “all of Africa, women have suffered,” and that she, herself, had been “jailed and beaten” and shot in the leg because she would not reveal the whereabouts of her friends (Angelou 2008e, 172–173):

They shot me and said my fighting days were over, but if I am paralyzed and can only lift my eyelids, I will stare the white oppressors out of Africa. (Angelou 2008e, 173)

While, during the liberation period some found it prestigious to dine and wine in European capital cities’ hotels, one African woman “found it ironic, if not downright stupid, to hold a meeting where people discussed how to get colonialism’s foot off the neck of Africa in the capital [London] of colonialism” (Angelou 2008e, 171). This irony reminded her of an African saying: Only a fool asks a leopard to look after a lamb (ibid).

After a year’s stay in Cairo with Make, in 1962 Angelou moved to Ghana, planning to stay for two weeks, place her son, Guy, at the University of Ghana, and then move on to Liberia where she had secured a job (Angelou 2008a, 1). But Guy’s involvement in a tragic accident, compelled her to settle in Ghana until her return to the USA in 1965. Efua Sutherland, a Ghanaian woman, she had met recently, sensing Angelou’s vulnerability, told her that her son was hers, too, affirming an African cultural teaching that a child belongs not just to the biological parents but to the entire village in which s/he resides (Angelou 2008a, 13).

Angelou reconnects to her African cultural roots

Angelo’s relationship with Ghana was love at first sight. The “sight of so many black people stirred [her] deepest emotions” (Angelou 2008e, 327). During her stay in Cairo, she had “never felt that Egypt was really Africa” (Angelou 2008e, 326). On her first visit to Egypt, with her group of artists, she was horrified by Egyptian Arab racism against Egyptian Africans. She witnessed a well-to-do Arab, instructing men “black as the night,” to physically carry her and another visiting African-American – an offer they declined (Angelou 2008d, 268). It took

less than five minutes to discover that the bellhops, porters, doormen and busboys were black and brown and beige, and that the desk clerk, head waiters, bartenders and hotel manager were white. As far as we knew, they might have all been African, but the distribution of jobs by skin color was not lost on us (Angelou 2008d, 258).

In contrast to her Egyptian experience, the moment she stepped into the airport in Accra, three

black men walked past us wearing white uniforms, visored caps, white pants and jackets whose shoulders bristled with epaulettes. Black pilots? Black captains? It was in 1962. In our country [America], the cradle of democracy, whose anthem boasted ‘the land of the free, the home of the brave,’ the only black men in our airports fueled planes, cleaned cabins, loaded food or were skycaps, racing the pavements for tips ((Angelou 2008e, 327)

During her stay in the African continent, Angelou (1998, 321–328)

found that Africans in a group, whether related by blood or marriage, were called by familial names: uncle, bubba, brother, tuta, sister, mama, papa, and I knew that American blacks continued that practice.

In her interactions with Africans, Angelou “frequently encountered behavior” that she had known in the USA which she thought to be “black American in origin, at the very least southern American” only to realise that

Black Americans’ attitudes in churches, their call and response and funeral marches are African carryovers, and herbal therapies are still actively practiced that can be traced back to Africa, their place of origin (Angelou 1998, 16–17).

It was not only the culture of respect, as practised by Africans, that stood the test of time, and remained standing, amid the torture of slavery, but the culture of generosity, too, as understood by Africans, that was carried by, and carried Africans, defying the Atlantic Ocean. In the village of Dunkwa, where Angelou found herself stranded, with no hotel in sight, she was given accommodation (Angelou 2008a, 110). While watching her host, assigned to her by a member of the village council, preparing a meal, Angelou (2008a, 113) noticed children appearing from time to time, carrying covered plates of food. The plates were meant as a gesture to shoulder the responsibility of catering for the meals of their guest, a responsibility that was regarded as communal, not individual. This gesture brought back memories of practices similar, if not the same in the USA, among African-Americans (Angelou 2008a, 114). She remembered that in the USA,

during segregation, black American travelers, unable to stay in hotels restricted to white patrons, stopped at churches and told the black ministers or deacons of their predicaments (ibid).

Just as she observed a village council member selecting a host for her, she recalled that in the USA

Church officials would select a home and then inform the unexpecting hosts of the decision. There was never a protest, but the new hosts relied on the generosity of their neighbors to help feed and even entertain their guests (ibid).

Just as she would see, later, in the village of Dunkwa in Ghana, children, from time to time, bringing in plates of food, in the USA, Angelou had observed that after the guests were assigned their hosts by the church officials, and “the travelers were settled, surreptitious knocks would sound on the back door,” the one knocking bringing a pan of biscuits, half-a-cake, macaroni and cheese for the guests (Angelou 2008a, 114).

In a conversation between her, and Nana Nketsia, the University of Ghana’s first Vice-Chancellor, Angelou (2008a, 124) learnt that “Africans take motherhood as the most sacred condition human beings can achieve.” Angelou (2008a, 125) did not fail to rise to the occasion, to reciprocate. In affirming the cultural bonds between Africans, in the continent, and Africans, in the diaspora, that defied the ravages of slavery, Angelou (2008a, 125) told Nana Nketsia that his observation confirmed her belief that African-Americans had “retained more Africanisms” than they actually knew because “also among black Americans Motherhood is sacred [...] We have strong mothers and we love them dearly.” In her own upbringing, it was her grandmother’s and mother’s “love [that] informed, educated, and liberated” her, and made her the woman she became (Angelou 2013: prologue). Her grandmother, Annie Henderson, paraded her before her friends and called her “little professor” because of her mathematical skills (ibid). Her mother, Vivian Baxter, told Angelou (2013, 78) that not only was she intelligent and kind – two elements not always found together – but also that Angelou was the greatest woman she had ever met.

In many ways, liberated Ghana, under the leadership of Kwame Nkrumah, restored Angelou’s humanity, which racist America had denied her:

We were black Americans in West Africa, where *for the first time in our lives the color of our skin was correct and normal* (Angelou 2008a, 1).

In response to Nkrumah’s call, Sutherland, who was a playwright, poet, teacher, and Ghana’s National Theatre’s head, had “written the old tales in new ways to teach the children that their history is rich and noble” (Angelou 2008a, 12).

For Angelou to get the firsthand experience of

Seeing Africans enter and leave the formal building [Flagstaff House, the seat of government] made me tremble with an awe I had never known. Their authority on the marble steps again proved that whites had been wrong all along. Black and brown skin did not herald debasement and a divinely created inferiority. We were capable of controlling our cities, our selves and our lives with elegance and success. Whites were not needed to explain the working of the world, nor the mysteries of the mind (Angelou 2008a, 16)

Angelou was not the only African-American in Ghana experiencing this great admiration for, and pride in the recently free-from-colonisation Ghana. There were a number of African-American professionals – teachers, journalists, plumbers, sociologists and plumbers – driven by the conviction, summed up by one African-American, Ted Pointiflet, that “Africa was the inevitable destination of all black Americans” (Angelou 2008a, 18). African-Americans, conscious that they “were mostly unwanted in the land of [their] birth [...]

saw promise on [their] ancestral continent” (Angelou 2008, 18). This view was not without encouragement from Ghana’s “progressive posture and [...] brilliant president, Kwame Nkrumah” (Angelou 2008a, 21). For Nkrumah “had let it be known that American Negroes would be welcome to Ghana” (ibid). Nkrumah’s gesture of extending Ghana as a home for Africans was not an act of instinct driven by a moment of euphoria. It was a concrete expression driven by his conviction in Pan-Africanism. On the very first day of Ghana’s independence he had declared openly his belief that Ghana’s independence was meaningless if it was not linked to the independence of the African continent. Angelou (2008a, 21) watched as Nkrumah put this theory into practice as he “offered havens for Southern and East African revolutionaries working to end colonialism in their countries.”

Inspired by Nkrumah’s vision, and sharing his vision with passionate intensity, Angelou (2008a, 19), with her fellow African-Americans in Ghana, “had little doubt about our likeability.” They were confident that “[a]fter Africans got to know us their liking would swiftly follow” (ibid). Their usefulness to Ghana was a question that did not arise – it was taken for granted, a given (ibid).

In this new environment, Angelou (2008a, 20) could not help but be “swept into an adoration for Ghana as a young girl falls in love, heedless and with slight chance of finding the emotion required.” But just like social romantic relationships, political romantic relationships are not without pain, and her political romantic relationship with Ghana was no different.

Africans’ bitter reception, bitter rejection of African-Americans: Pan-Africanism on trial

In explaining her “amorous feelings,” Angelou (2008a, 20) notes that for a very long time African-Americans had always longed for a place they could identify as their home, a place they had sung about for centuries, the kind that was not built with hands, whose streets were paved with gold, and washed with honey and milk (ibid). In that home, the African-Americans “would study war no more, and, more important, no one would wage war against us again” (ibid):

And now, less than one hundred years after slavery was abolished, some descendants of those early slaves taken from Africa, returned, weighted with a heavy hope, to a continent which they could not remember, to *a home which had shamefully little memory of them* (emphasis added) (ibid).

The foregoing sentiment is unmistakably one filled with anguish, a clear contrast to the emotions of excitement earlier articulated. Contrary to the expectations that the long lost daughters and sons of Africa taken to the Americas would be welcomed at the airport with warm embraces and jubilations, the African-Americans felt that their arrival had little impact on anyone but them. They “ogled the Ghanaians and few of them even noticed. The newcomers hid disappointment in quick repartee, in jokes and clenched jaws.” (Angelou 2008a, 22). This absence of acknowledgment, the realisation that the Ghanaian “citizens were engaged in their own concerns” hurt the African-Americans deeply (Angelou 2008a, 22–23).

The perceived Ghanaians’ indifference to the African-Americans inflicted deep psychological and emotional scars on Angelou. Not only did she articulate this anguish in her book, *All God’s Children Need Travelling Shoes*, but revisited this issue in her book, *Even the Stars Look Lonesome*:

Although millions of Africans were taken from the continent from the sixteenth until the middle of the nineteenth century, many Africans on the continent display no concern over the descendants of their lost ancestors. Many have no knowledge that their culture has been spread around the world by those same hapless and sometimes hopeless descendants. African culture is alive and well. An African proverb spells out the truth: “The ax forgets. The tree remembers.” (Angelou 1998, 17)

On a particular lunch time, while Angelou and a friend were having a conversation in the dining hall, they suddenly heard a loud voice complaining about the absence of rice from apparently two meals in succession (Angelou 2008a, 26–27). When the woman went on ceaselessly, without anyone paying her attention, Angelou (2008a, 19) decided to take it upon herself to intervene by approaching the cook in the kitchen. Adamantly, the cook told Angelou that the woman should either wait for rice to be served in the evening or go somewhere else. In the hope of appealing to his national sentiment, Angelou pointed out to the cook that the protestor would go back to her country “thinking Ghanaians are mean” (ibid). Dismissively, the cook said the woman could go back to her country, and, disinterestedly asked where she was from “anyway” (ibid). Upon hearing that the protesting woman was from a next-door West African country, Sierra Leone, the cook “jumped off the stool”

‘Why didn’t you say that? You said “a woman.” I thought you meant a black American. Sierra Leone people can’t live without rice. They are like people from Liberia. They die for rice. I will bring her some.’ (ibid)

It had come out – some Ghanaian Africans were not only passive, indifferent to the African-Americans – they were openly hostile! This indifference, at best, and hostility, at worst, induced a feeling of being unappreciated on the part of African-Americans. They had justifications for feeling that way.

There was Vicki Garvin, Angelou’s friend, a union organiser back in the USA, and highly respected in labour circles in Europe and the USA (Angelou 2008a, 32). With a Bachelor’s degree in English, a Master’s degree in economics, and years of experience, Garvin, after having first gone to Nigeria, where she experienced “a bitter reception, or rather, a bitter rejection,” and having been “encouraged to believe that she would easily find creative work in the progressive country of Ghana,” ended up, with her qualifications, as a typist in a foreign embassy (Angelou 2008a, 32–33). But Garvin was not the only one in Angelou’s circle to swallow this bitter cup. There was Alice Windom, who, despite having degrees from an Ohio university and a Master’s from the University of Chicago, her field being sociology, and dreaming of belonging to a community of African social workers, ended up being a receptionist in a foreign embassy (Angelou 2008a, 33). Disappointments notwithstanding, without pretending that these experiences did not leave a bitter taste in the mouth, the rejected descendants of the African continent, made an effort to rationalise and contextualise some of their African sisters’ and brothers’ indifference and rejection.

Garvin expressed the appreciation that as a newly-independent country, “Ghana need[ed] its jobs for Ghanaians,” but still expressed hope that “someday,” things would improve (Angelou 2008a, 33). She understood and articulated the reality that the “continent is poor, and while Ghanaians have wonderful spirits, thanks to themselves and Kwame Nkrumah, they are desperate” (Angelou 2008a, 45). Though Windom vocalised her resentment at “these Africans in personnel [...] treating me like Charlie did down on the plantation,” she embraced Ghana, and, as Angelou (2008a, 33) points out, “[t]here was never a suggestion

that she might leave Ghana for greener pastures” (Angelou 2008a, 33). Angelou (2008a, 39) herself “turned [her] back to the niggling insecurities and opened [her] arms to Ghana.” She “would not admit that if [she] couldn’t be comfortable in Africa, [she] had no place else to go” (ibid). This rationalisation and contextualisation was possible because the African-Americans understood that some of them were not blameless for the Ghanaians’ unpleasant attitude. There were those African-Americans, who, having come under the aegis of the American government “[t]oo often [...] mimicked the manners of their former lords and ladies, trying to treat the Africans as whites had treated them” (Angelou 2008a, 24):

They socialized with Europeans and white Americans, fawning upon that company with ugly obsequiousness.

Throughout Angelou’s sweet and bitter experiences, the Ancestor Spirits were watching. When Angelou visited Keta, a town in the east of Ghana, the Ancestors asserted their presence.

In the warm embrace of mother Africa: Africa and Africans reclaim their African-American children

When the car she was travelling in approached Keta bridge, which until then Angelou knew nothing about, not even its name, she suddenly jerked alert, experienced a heart race, struggled to breathe and gasped for air, causing her to instruct the driver to stop the car (Angelou 2008a, 218). Except for feeling that the prospect of crossing the Keta bridge so terrified her, and that had the driver not stopped the car, she would have jumped out while it was still in motion, Angelou herself, did not understand her own behaviour, and, therefore could not explain it (Angelou 2008a, 219). But her feelings were intense enough to enable her to instruct her fellow travelers to get out of the car and cross over on feet (ibid).

After Angelou’s host enquired whether or not Angelou knew anything about the history of Keta bridges, and the latter pleading ignorance, her host, Adadevo, explained that the old Keta bridges were infamous for being so poorly constructed such that in any flood they would crumble and wash away (ibid). Adadevo explained that people in conveyances of any kind perished in the floods (ibid). As a result of such tragic experiences, passengers in palanquins elected to get out of them and walked across on feet because when such crises struck only people walking on foot stood a chance to cross the bridge and survive (ibid). Hearing this story, Angelou felt “a quick chill” (ibid). The world of the Ancestor Spirits had communicated with her in a dramatic way! But that was just the beginning, not the end of the drama.

As she was climbing a narrow dark passage, going to the Keta market, suddenly in front of her, a tall African woman appeared, and began to address her, interestingly, “in a voice somewhat similar to my own” (Angelou 2008a, 222). As Angelou tried to explain in Fanti, one of Ghana’s languages, that she could not speak Ewe, the pre-dominant language of Keta, the old lady “put her hands on her wide hips, reared back and let loose into the dim close air around us a tirade of angry words” (ibid). Her Fanti not working, Angelou tried French, a language spoken in the area. That, too, did not work. Instead the old lady became more aggressive, came closer, clapped her hands close to Angelou’s face for her to feel the rush of air. As she moved closer, Angelou was forced to retreat. She had to appeal to her host, Adadevo, to intervene. When he did, explaining to the old lady that Angelou was an American, the old lady shook her head in denial – it could not be! Her denial would soon make sense.

Angelou (2008a, 223) had to produce her American driver’s license to prove her statement. When the old lady lifted her head away from Angelou’s document, Angelou “nearly

fell back down the steps” (ibid). Out of the dark passage, in the light, Angelou saw that the old lady had the “wide face and slanted eyes” of her own grandmother (ibid). Angelou saw that the old lady’s “lips were large and beautifully shaped like my grandmother’s, and her cheek bones were high like those of my grandmother.” The resemblance was striking!

Now, convinced, the old lady went close to Angelou, patted her cheeks a few times, and after studying her, she “lifted both arms and lacing her fingers together clasped her hands and put them on the top of her head. She rocked a little from side to side and issued a pitiful moan.” (Angelou 2008a, 224). These gestures, this body language, reminded Angelou that back in the USA, if she, or her brother, put our hands over on our heads as the woman before me was doing, “my grandmother would stop in her work and come to remove our hands and warn us that the gesture brought bad luck. Mr. Adadevo spoke to me quietly, ‘That’s the way we mourn.’”(ibid)

When the old lady took Angelou to another woman in the market, she, too, repeated the old lady’s gestures. Adadevo explained to Angelou that the old lady thought Angelou was a daughter of her friend, but that “now you remind them of someone, but not anyone they knew personally” (Angelou 2008a, 225). This seemingly inexplicable behaviour had a perfect explanation if and when examined within an African historical and cultural context. Keta village had a history of being ravaged by violent slavery (Angelou 2008a, 225). Every adult, in one raid by enslavers, was either killed or captured and taken into slavery, the only survivors being children who escaped and hid in the bush (Angelou 2008a, 225–226). They watched as their parents were beaten up, and chained (Angelou 2008a, 226). But they also saw their parents fighting back bravely, setting fire to the village, mothers and fathers taking their infants by their feet and bashing their heads against tree trunks rather than seeing them sold into slavery (ibid). The surviving children were taken and brought up by nearby villagers (ibid). Angelou heard from Adadevo that the surviving children married, reproduced and “rebuilt Keta” (ibid). The story was kept alive by being passed on to offsprings. Adadevo (ibid) explained to Angelou that these women were the descendants of those orphaned children, and that Angelou looked so much like them, and that even the tone of her voice was like theirs. They are were confident that Angelou was descended from those stolen mothers and fathers. Their mourning was for their lost people (ibid).

In this way, the Ancestor Spirits, Africa, and Africans, had given a clear indication that both the spiritual and biological ties that bound Africa to her children, wherever they may be, were not broken (ibid). Angelou understood the significance of the Keta village drama as such (ibid):

And here in my last days in Africa, descendants of a pillaged past saw their history in my face and heard their ancestors speak through my voice.

The Keta village experience gave her reassurance, confidence in the knowledge that African-Americans had never been completely dislocated from Africa.

Four years after enjoying the fruits of Ghana’s independence, Angelou (2008b, 5) responded to the revolutionary Pan-Africanist, Malcolm X’s call, to help him establish the Organisation of African-American Unity (OAAU) when Malcolm X met Angelou on his visit to Ghana.

Malcolm X calls, Maya Angelou responds: taking the Pan-Africanist and the African Renaissance battle to the USA: concluding remarks

Revolutionary love and appreciation between Angelou and Malcolm X was mutual (Angelou 2008b, 6). In his letter to Angelou, Malcolm X expressed appreciation for Angelou’s “analysis of our people’s tendency to talk over the head of the masses in a language that is

too far above and beyond [as] certainly true” (Angelou 2008b, 6). In a further affirmation, Malcolm X told Angelou she could communicate because she had “plenty of (soul)” and that she always kept her “feet firmly rooted in the ground” (ibid).

Conscious that “Africans in South Africa often said they had been inspired by Martin Luther King, Jr. and the Montgomery bus boycott of 1958,” Angelou was determined to see to it that the OAAU was going to give them “something new, something visionary to look up to” in such a way that after African-Americans had cleansed themselves and their country, Africans in South Africa “would be able to study our methods, take heart from our example and let freedom ring in their country as it would ring in ours” (Angelou 2008b, 7). But in less than 48 hours of Angelou’s return from Ghana, a day after speaking to Malcolm X on the phone, and telling him that she was going to join him in New York in a month’s time, Malcolm X’s and Angelou’s dream about the OAAU was turned into a nightmare – Malcolm X was shot dead on February 21, 1965 (Angelou 2008b, 20; 22; 93). As if this was not enough, and as she was preparing to join Martin Luther King, Jr’s invitation to her to help him in a civil rights’ campaign, King Jr was assassinated on April 4, on Angelou’s birthday, as if to make sure that she should never forget white supremacists’ cruelty (Angelou 2008b, 143–144; 154–155).

Maya Angelou was a self-declared “proud member of the wonderful, beautiful Negro race” (Angelou 2007, 198). This self-consciousness made her commit to the struggle to reclaim the dignity of her people by identifying herself with the ideology of Pan-Africanism. Through her gift of journalism, she recorded African struggles against white supremacy throughout the world. These s/ heroic and triumphant endeavours were recorded without romanticisation. She did not turn a blind eye to the narrow-mindedness of some African people in these struggles, both in the continent and in the diaspora, and exposed the absence of pan-African consciousness both among the Ghanaians and among the African-Americans. But amid these shortfalls and shortcomings, she recognised the resilience of African culture which celebrated the elevation of, and the notion of respect for, and preservation of human dignity and human interdependence. She saw in this African culture a potent instrument in restoring Africanness to Africans, and humanism to humans in the entire world where inhumanity reigns supreme. This restoration of African and human dignity is the African Renaissance, a uniquely African contribution to the human race. This unequivocal commitment, her conviction in African culture as a potent and potential force in African people’s liberation is eloquently articulated in her book, *Even the Stars Look Lonesome*:

We need to haunt the halls of history and listen anew to the ancestors’ wisdom. We must ask questions and find answers that will help us to avoid dissolving into the merciless maw of history. How were our forefathers able to support their weakest? How were they able to surround the errant leader and prevent him from being coopted by forces that would destroy him and them? How were they – lonely, bought separately, sold apart – able to conceive of the deep wisdom found in the advice “Walk together, children...don’t you get weary (Angelou 1998, 101–102).

Despite the inhumanity imposed on her African people, she did not lose faith in the possibility of the building of sister/brotherhood among all members of the human race. Her ancestors’ philosophy, African Humanism, inspired her to love not just Africans but all humanity. This comes out best in her book, *Letter To My Daughter*, in which she urges all the women she had “mothered” spiritually, since she never gave biological birth to a female child, to “[b]e certain that you do not die without having done something wonderful for humanity” (Angelou 2012, x). She, herself, made sure that before her spirit and flesh parted, she did

something wonderful for humanity through her Afrocentric journalistic contribution to Pan-Africanism and the African Renaissance.

References

- Angelou, M. *Even the Stars Look Lonesome*. New York: Bantam Books, 1998.
- Angelou, M. *I Know Why The Caged Bird Sings*. London: Virago Press, 2007.
- Angelou, M. *All God's Children Need Travelling Shoes*. London: Virago Press, 2008a.
- Angelou, M. *A Song Flung Up To Heaven*. London: Virago Press, 2008b.
- Angelou, M. *Gather Together in My Name*. London: Virago Press, 2008c.
- Angelou, M. *Singin' & Swingin' & Getting' Merry Like Christmas*. London: Virago Press, 2008d.
- Angelou, M. *The Heart of a Woman*. London: Virago Press, 2008e.
- Angelou, M. *Letter To My Daughter*. London: Virago Press, 2012.
- Angelou, M. *Mom & Me & Mom*. London: Virago Press, 2013.
- Asante, M. K. *Afrocentricity: the Theory of Social Change (Revised and Expanded)*. Chicago, Illinois: African American Images, 2003.



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Part VI

Musical Pan-Africanism



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Pan-Africanism in jazz

Karlton E. Hester

African-American "jazz"

African-American jazz represents its vast African root system and is the culmination and synthesis of all earlier African-American musical forms. There are infinite sociocultural features of Global-African music that were incorporated into the powerful magnetism of jazz before being distilled into the modern and contemporary musical juba that was labeled "jazz." In Jazz, Pan-African processes create systems, styles (musical and social), and fundamental processes that tend to focus more upon content than form; so that content often dictates form rather than vice versa. Process involves a series of occurrences that produce change or development. Form involves the shape or appearance of things that make them identifiable to human consciousness. Content is the quantity or essence of phenomena contained within something else. The content of the universe involves everything that exists in actuality while form only involves our limited perception of reality. While exercising musical interaction, reciprocity, synergy, balance, and creativity within the spontaneous compositional process, we can also observe related processes and patterns within the broader universe. Thus we can discover an infinite array of models of viable dynamic systems.

We witness a creative process in motion around common dynamic systems such as beehives, where there is a clear sense of united purpose, organization, direction, individual and collective skill, and continuity, all leading ultimately to the mutually beneficial creation of honey. Clans, villages, and cities also involve dynamic systems of production that involve complex interconnectivity and interaction aimed at mutually beneficial goals. Polarity and duality, call and response, seem to abound throughout such dynamic systems within the observable universe. Tendencies towards balance, stasis, and motion appear to determine the nature of transformations, proportion, and the formation of sequences in nature.

Process involves a series of occurrences that produce change or development. Form involves the shape or appearance of things that make them identifiable to human consciousness. Content is the quantity or essence of phenomena contained within something else. The content of the universe involves everything that exists in actuality while form only involves our limited perception of reality. While exercising musical interaction, reciprocity, synergy, balance, and creativity within the spontaneous compositional process, we can also observe related processes and patterns within the broader universe. Thus we can discover an

infinite array of models of viable dynamic systems. We witness a creative process in motion around common dynamic systems such as beehives, where there is a clear sense of united purpose, organization, direction, individual and collective skill, and continuity, all leading ultimately to the mutually beneficial creation of honey. Polarity and duality seem to abound throughout such dynamic systems within the observable universe. Tendencies towards balance, stasis, and motion appear to determine the nature of transformations, proportion, and the formation of sequences in nature.

Through the nexus between the primary elements of music practice, sound production and dissemination, we can explore Global cultural history through the primary lens of jazz music evolution from its traditional African source to the present. Much can be learned through the exploration of the intersections between trans-global cultural development that enables music to serve as a mirror of the world's history as captured in interdisciplinary domains of dance, visual art, and music ritual. Exploring the evolution of *Homo sapiens* culture through examining the progression of "jazz" from its African roots, delineates and parallels the historical migrations of humankind, from its African source, through the lens of musical instruments, iconography, cultural and ritual patterns, kinetic expression, and shared musical elements.

Jazz as a reflection of pure democracy

Jazz, like characteristics of chaos theory and essential creative processes throughout the universe, is powerfully constructed, unpredictable, interconnected, and evolutionary. It involves a non-linear process that emanates omnidirectional influence. Art is a reflection of universal procedure so musicians, filmmakers, poets, dancers, visual artists often set out on a new body of work without knowing what exactly may be approaching on the horizon. Since Global African artistic expression is a contemporary manifestation capable of creating contemporary myths and influence worldwide, that are reflective of past, present and future thought, it also reflects the ancient African socio-spiritual culture that it retains and perpetuates from the seeds of modern global art styles, ethos, tribal principles, and collective moral beliefs that first emerged from humanity's parents on the African continent. The concept of African-American "jazz" democracy and other fundamental qualities demonstrate the power of music to present an archetype representing political order that allows for both individual effective organization, outlet for modes of human expression, and innovative collaborative creativity.

African-American "Jazz" is very broadly imitated but can never truly be duplicated, because it reflects a Pan-African consciousness that is a sum total of lifetimes of experiences that enlightens a path toward musical liberty of spirit that is arduous, powerfully communicative and variegated in its disposition. "Jazz: originated and evolved in the African-American community." Despite lack of the level of funding backing scientific exploration, projects, and thought, jazz developed qualities of powerful and highly effective communication that generates fundamental spirit energy and wisdom that cannot be duplicated through imitation or transubstantiation without exposing conspicuous trans-substantive errors.

Navigating a jazz journey requires tenacity, strength of character, ancient knowledge, wisdom, and innovative creativity. Musical exchange, migration and evolution involved a global unfolding of ideas, stylistic distinction, and spiritual practices, that forged cultural identities and produced continually advancing episodes generating evolving principles of musical organization and freedom. Each culture's artists and contributors reveal a different facet of its budding sociocultural identity, perspectives, and the process ultimately unveils reflections of its social psychology and assorted temperaments.

From the perspective of creative freedom and artistic evolution, the ultimate musical goal for many innovative artists is often to aspire to ever-greater degrees of technical skill, imaginative liberty, and artistic enlightenment that extend the well-crafted ancient traditions and vocabularies. Ideally, modern and contemporary artists aspire to reach the same degree of mastery, integrity, unity, craftsmanship, balance (polarity), magic, interaction, organic development, enjoyment (joy), rhythmic groove, and beauty that premeditated musical traditions from the past.

African source

Who were the ancestors of the African people who created “jazz” in America and what was the nature of African society before the slave trade disrupted African socio-culture? To understand the transformations that took place within the jazz fission process that resulted in its formation, we must first understand both the African roots of African-American music and the relationship between Europeans and Africans that develop into the adversarial condition that created racism and slave mentality? Much of that tense relationship became the physical, psychological, and spiritual motivation for African people to create and develop modern African-American music?

As African contributions to the evolution of humanity gradually became undeniable, European scholars began denying that Egyptians and Ethiopians were “Black” African people. The intriguing parallel between this controversy and sets of arguments results in a closely related delusion over whether “jazz” (an African-American invention) is African American or “American” in contemporary debates. However, evidence contained within the Mosaic records reveal that the Ethiopians are certainly “Black” people in the annals of all the great early nations of Asia Minor. Likewise, scholars who insist upon maintaining theories of “European” supremacy find themselves refuting evidence that “jazz” is African-American music that is shared freely with global culture. Clearly, if the label “Latin Jazz” exists so must the description “African-American Jazz”—under the same logic.

Music, unlike war, has most always served to bring people together. Music in Africa is an integrated process of communal and individual singing, dancing, visual art, and instrument playing. There is no single word for music in any African language. All music results in infinite shades of tone color, assorted expressive approaches, cultural emotions, thought, implications, and meanings. Elements of music are universal, although its endless modes of composition and implications are not.

Because jazz evolved as a consequence of European attempts at the total annihilation of the African family and culture in the Americas, its adaptation resulted in the formation of brand new transcultural convergences. As such, a consciousness and methodology evolved capable of absorbing, transforming and assimilating any musical principles that entered its artistic sphere. This capability was grounded in the ancient cultural fluidity of Pan-African culture where people throughout the Guinea Coast, Congo, Sudan, Eastern Cattle Area, Khoisan Area and North Africa exchanged knowledge, goods, and culture for thousands of years. Consequently, jazz not only reflects features of West Africa, but also retains features from the entire African continent.

Stylistic areas of African music

To comprehend the myriad Pan-African cultural forces reflected in jazz, conscientious historical study of African music cannot restrict itself to the development of musical forms and

style alone. Music is very much a part of the social and cultural African and Global-African worldview and life. Thus, it is important to consider factors that link traditional African society with the outside world in order to widen an investigation of the more subtle African stylistic regional influences retained in jazz.

For many years cultural areas of Sub-Saharan Africa were grouped into geographical regions such as the Khoisan, Guinea Coast, Congo, Sudan, Eastern Cattle, and the Pygmy (Ituri Forest) areas to provide a basic framework for observation of African musical style. Eurocentric musicologists fragmented the continent by separating North Africa from the remainder of Sub-Saharan Africa. All of the diverse stylistic regions on the African continent have been interconnected by influences on music, dialects customs, and other aspects of culture throughout history, and such exchange can never be arbitrarily contained by artificial borders established by Europe. Focused studies of the stylistic traits of musical elements, instruments, functions and stylistic qualities of the Guinea Coast, Khoisan area, Sudan, Congo, Eastern Cattle area, and the Ituri Forest have revealed many similarities and differences between cultures and communities within this vast region.

The perpetual changes that inevitably thwart individual and community stability, balance, and equilibrium are reflected in the mirror of music. The multidimensional physical, emotional, and intellectual dynamics of life in an ever-changing world is reflected in the transformation of traditional African music over the years. Ancient African Khoi, San, Mbuti, and other ancient people, who reside within the Ituri Forest in the Congo region and Kalahari Desert in the Khoisan Area, are usually referred to as “primitive.” However, both ancient African people have actually achieved and sustained harmonious stability with their environment—beginning thousands of years ago and extending into contemporary life. Their chief cultural disruption has been at the hands of self-identified “civilized” societies who imposed foreign social systems through the use of senseless violence, destruction, lack of empathy, and insatiable greed aimed at achieving their own social advancement and power. Similarly, the lives of Africans in America were disrupted, stolen, and displaced throughout the Americas. But, in the final analysis, the cultural and musical adaptations made by African-Americans created a Pan-African musical statement that reveals physical, cultural, and psychological tenacity that became a model of human advancement through jazz.

Just as Egypt and certain other eastern portions of Africa show greater influences from civilizations operating across the Red Sea, North African cultures reflect influences from various Mediterranean areas, its contact with southern regions of Africa are just as clear. A well-traveled land route from the Nile to the Red Sea was used from the time of the Old Kingdom of Egypt. Egyptians built ships as early as 3000 BCE by fastening wooden boards together and stuffing the gaps with strips of cane, enabling them to import goods from Lebanon and the wealthy trade area of ancient Punt. In Indian Ocean trade Eastern African areas traded with inland kingdoms, such as ancient Zimbabwe, to obtain gold, ivory, and iron that were then sold as African exports in the Indian Ocean Trade with India, Southeast Asia, China, and other regions.

The North Africa stylistic region includes Algeria, Egypt, Libya, Mauritania, Morocco, Tunisia, and Western Sahara. In addition to native African cultures, the music produced by musicians from the North African regions are influenced by three outside musical cultures, the Persian, Arab, and Turkish. Islam is a prominent language spoken. Much North African music has many elemental properties in common with Middle-Eastern style. This musical stylistic cross-fertilization extends from the borders of the Himalayas to the Atlantic Ocean. A prominent segment of the population of musicians within Northern Africa consists of the Berbers, and the Kurds. Due to a high circulation of migrant people in the region, musical

practices in the area are quite diverse and dynamic. The music is often highly ornamental (melismatic), much like the modern modal jazz of Miles Davis, John Coltrane, Ornette Colman, and other musicians in jazz styles that emerged during the 1960s.

During prehistoric times, Trans-Saharan trade required travel across the Sahara (north and south) to reach sub-Saharan Africa from the North African coast, Europe, to the Levant. The Sahel people were the middlemen of Trans-Saharan trade, when Camels were used as the primary form of transportation where a major item traded between the Sudan Area and sub-Saharan Africa was salt. To the south of the Sahara and the Libyan Desert (one of the hottest and driest desert areas in the world) lies a belt of vegetation that is economically rich and which provides a favorable route for travelers across the continent. Across from the southern Egyptian border was the channel through which Egyptian influence passed southwards to the rest of Africa. Its inhabitants, Cushite tribesmen, ruled northern Sudan for the best part of a thousand years. Many world cultures have influenced other portions of Sudan as well, largely because Sudanese borders touch nine other African countries the country has seen the migrations of many small independent ethnic groups bringing such instruments as the Arab *rebec* (a pear-shaped two-or three-stringed instrument) and the *alkaita* (a reed instrument found in Central Africa and northern Nigeria). The *rebec* is related to other African chordophones that were Ancient precursors of the African-American banjo. The *alkaita* produces a tone and modal style reminiscent of John Coltrane's modal approach to the soprano saxophone during late 1950s and early-to-mid 1960s.

Jazz reflections of African regional musical styles

Ancient people attempted to reconcile their own personal and collective harmony and rhythm in daily life with nature through copious observation, imitation, ritual displays of reverence, cyclical measurement of time, and metaphysical theorization. People like the Khoi and San of the Kalahari Desert, and as well as the ancient inhabitants of the Ituri Forest often collectively referred to as Pygmies. Bantu and other Pygmy music is sang with a sense of fluidity, organic abandon, and polyphonic texture that shares some characteristics with polyphonic New Orleans jazz from the early twentieth century or Free Jazz that emerged during the 1960s.

It is estimated that there are between 250,000 and 600,000 Pygmies living in the Congo rainforest. Diminutive African Pygmies, have lived in harmony with nature for thousands of years and are scattered across equatorial Africa. They speak various languages, inhabit different varieties of forests, and have assorted approaches to hunting and gathering food. Studies suggest that the pygmies of Western Central Africa's Ituri Forest region "descended from an ancestral population that survived intact until 2800 years ago when farmers invaded the pygmies' territory and split them apart."¹

Although there is a predominance of duple motifs, triple and alternating duple and triple motifs are utilized frequently. Similar patterns are found in different African societies, but certain patterns are typical of particular geographic areas (such as the bell patterns of the Niger and Congo regions).² Some instrumental rhythms (on melodic instruments) may be metrically free and abstract. Others are lyrical. Melodic instruments of one or two pitches can be effective in creating impressive rhythmic patterns.

Certain rhythmic characteristics link African music with "Black" music of other world cultures. Both metronism³ (the presence of a strict metronomic pulse) and the importance of percussion are aspects of music that have been retained in the sacred and secular styles of "Black" music outside the African continent. Africanisms came to North America principally

via West African sources (more specifically, from the Slave Coast in the vicinity of the Guinea Coast area). With the cessation of slavery, “Black” Americans maintained some of the African musical traditions through activities such as the drumming and dancing in Congo Square, the popularity of street parades, and the tradition of music at funerals.⁴

Both North Africa and Sub-Saharan Africa contain music that has undergone constant evolution as performers modify traditional elements of musical performance to keep their own presentations unique and contemporary. Most of the Africans who came to America during the European slave era were from Sub-Saharan Africa, and the tendency to create unique musical expression was maintained in jazz. Although most African music was initially exposed only to regional influences, eventually other outside cultures also contributed to the overall development of the music. African-American music thus possessed African musical qualities reflective of a wide-ranging collection of influences that allowed jazz to become equally diversified.

Linguistic influences within African music are most conspicuous in the tendencies of African drums to “talk” with clearly articulated representative speech styles and inflections. African-American music maintained some of that linguistic emphasis in its music. In early jazz styles, mutes were applied to brass instruments to increase their spectrum of simulated tonal articulation and timbre. There was a tendency of other jazz instrumentalists to sing while playing their instruments to augment the melodic lines (the singing of pianist Keith Jarrett as well as that of bassists Major Holly and Slam Stewart are examples). Although African language was virtually lost in America over time, some African-American stylistic tendencies reflect ways in which ancestral African griots used linguistic nuances when they performed their stories, songs and messages.

Although rhythm’s evolutionary path in America resulted in a drastically different character as the result of a particular historical process where the function of the drum changed roles, traditional African rhythmic approach is still acutely felt today in “old school” Hip Hop “Boom—Bap” beat. Boom—Bap beat is an African-American adaptation of early foot-stomping and hand-clapping performed in early African-American music that supplied the same time-keeping function as within Pan-African musical styles a half-century years ago. The purpose in both cases was to ground complex vocal delivery with supporting simple rhythmic patterns esconced between the imitation of virtuoso vocal representations of drum patterns of Global African musical heritage.

Certain rhythmic and dynamic characteristics link jazz strongly to both African music and Pan-African music of other world cultures. Sustained intensity, metronism (the presence of a strict metronomic pulse), African linguistic emulation, and the importance of percussion are aspects of music that have been retained in the sacred and secular styles of Pan-African music. Africanisms came to North America principally through West African sources, from the Guinea Coast area referred to historically as the Slave Coast. Remarkably, even when drums were outlawed in North America, Africa-Americans maintained features of the African musical traditions through the drumming and dancing in Congo Square, the musical approaches of street parades, and the tradition of music at funerals.

The Guinea Coast is the coastal region of the West African area from Senegal to Lake Chad. It includes Mauretania, Senegal, Gambia, Mali, Guinea, Sierra Leone, Liberia, Ivory Coast, Ghana, Burkina Faso, Niger, Togo, Dahomey, Nigeria, and Cameroun. Significantly, the majority of enslaved Africans were abducted from this area during the period of the trans-Atlantic slave trade. It is estimated that fifteen to twenty million Africans were transported to the United States alone during the period from around 1640 onward.⁵ During this same period Guinea Black kingdoms flourished despite the fact that a great portion of the

young and healthy population was subjugated. Africans sent to the southern part of the Western Hemisphere, unlike those sent to North America, were able to maintain much of their culture through traditional African displays of tribal dancing and drumming (*batouques*).

African music played a significant role in early slave revolts in the Americas. Drums and the singing voice were important methods of communication during revolts on land. Enslaved and displaced people from West Africa used drums to communicate with each other in much the same way as they did at home when first brought to North America during the 1600s and 1700s. Through musical means they sent coded rhythmic messages over long distances that Europeans could not understand. In this way slaves held in different encampments stayed in contact with each other, and rebellions were planned. But eventually Europeans figured that the drums were relaying precise information and quickly decided that it was,

absolutely necessary to the safety of this Province, that all due care be taken to restrain Negroes from using or keeping of drums, which may call together or give sign or notice to one another of their wicked designs and purposes.—

Slave Code of South Carolina, Article 36 (1740)

From that point on Africans in North America began the transformation that led to the evolution of a unique path to African-American rhythm that now dominates the contemporary musical world. The new musical awareness absorbed the Native American tribal influence, Latin American styles, the folk music of the European colonists, and, in turn, transformed and musical rhythms that came into close proximity; including Global African music.

As a consequence of the drum induced constant slave rebellion, not all abducted Africans remained enslaved in the Americas. Contact with the indigenous people of the Americas was also a result of African musical communication. Maroon is a term used to label Africans who had escaped from enslavement who resided throughout the Americas and mixed with the indigenous peoples of the Americas. During the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, the classification “Maroon” was a European label assigned to a self-emancipated “fugitive” African of the West Indies and Guiana (and their descendants) who escaped from their enslavement. They formed independent settlements and Maroons also assisted other Africans in their protests, struggles against oppression and enslavement. Their cross-fertilized cultural life experiences became bridges to cross-cultural musical expression.

The classification “Maroon” was originally a European label for a fugitive African slave of the West Indies and Guiana in the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, or a descendant of such a self-emancipated African. Therefore, Maroons became a term for Africans who had escaped from slavery throughout the Americas and mixed with the indigenous peoples of the Americas. They formed independent settlements and the term was also often applied to their descendants. Maroons also assisted other Africans in their protests, struggles against oppression and enslavement. A multitude of cross-cultural exchange emerged from such intimate African contact with indigenous people throughout the Americas and Caribbean.

Jazz reflections and retentions

The most successful revolts were orchestrated through very precise musical communication delivered through African drum messages that European captors were never able to decode. As a result, the success of strategic planning through drumming in North America caused a historically significant break with Africa that produced an innovative and unique musical mutation that was unlike anything that ever occurred on earth beforehand. The retention of

African drumming and other cultural rituals throughout the Caribbean and Latin America was lost when drumming was eventually forbidden among African American communities throughout the United States but that event changed the course of global musical history. Ironically, largely due to the significant denial of African-American access to African musical instruments and traditions, jazz evolved along newly invented lines of unprecedented musical freedom of expression and technical development in North America that is found nowhere else in the world. A new Pan-African language was codified that was at once a convergence of ancient African cultural wisdom and creativity and a harbinger of future Pan-African musical tendencies and artistic directions. In the Pan-African regions where African drums were not forbidden, complex polyrhythms were retained in various forms of modern South American and Caribbean music. Trinidadian Calypso, Brazilian Bossa Nova, Cuban Son and Rumba, as well as Haitian Gwo Ka and Compas, do not closely resemble any forms of Jazz, Rhythm 'n' Blues, or Hip-Hop.

The most readily available substitute for drums was the human voice. When drums were taken away from enslaved Africans in America, they maintained stealthy communication through their early African-American songs. Field hollers, children's game songs, various vocal instances of religious vocal call and response, work songs, prison songs, and all kinds of rhythmic augmented vocal music were acquired. In each instance the voice replicates drum patterns and created polyphonic singing and chanting further enhanced, extended, and embellished by voice techniques that also included guttural effects, interpolated vocal technique, melisma, ululations (high-pitch female warbling sound), and other expressive additions. Work songs were common on the African continent and labor such as chopping wood, working on railroad construction, and plantation work provided an organic physical meter over which the polyrhythmic and polyphonic vocal sounds could unfold and improvise—just as jazz musicians would later do in scat singing. Vocal traditions established an important role in the preservation of African rhythmic and some features of linguistic heritage.

African American vocalists mastered the art of emotional rendering and double entendre (conveying one meaning to European American society while simultaneously sending a hidden, genuine meaning to the intended recipient on southern plantations). In the African-American Blues forms this approach to conveying emotional messages is often contrasted with the addition of strong dosages of humor. Northern Sudan is comprised of four main cultures: the Nubians (the most ancient), the Mahass, the Galien, and the Shaigai, all living on the Nile River. The Nubians use the lyre and the duff (a single-headed drum) to accompany songs and dances. The music is sometimes melancholy with a single melody being performed in a variety of social situations. The tradition of the Mahass is similar. On the other hand, the musical culture of the Shaigai is cheerful and often satirical. The melodies are brief love songs; exotic dances accompanied by the lyre or two *daluka* drums (a clay sounding-box covered with goatskin).

Beginning initially on the plantations of the Carolinas and Georgia, and as the African drum ban spread pervasively, Africans converted everything around them into percussive instruments. Spoons, washboards, their own bodies, hand clapping, drumming on various surfaces of the body (Patting Juba), foot stomping, shuffling (during the Ring Shout), and early rhythmic dance approaches that eventually emerges as African-American Tap Dancing. Various forms of brass mutes also eventually emerged to reflect the tonal tendencies of tonal African languages.

The Eastern Cattle Area includes Uganda, Kenya, and Tanzania (the latter formed by the union of Tanganyika and Zanzibar in 1964).⁶ This region forms the 618,934-square-

mile area of East Africa where its music, customs, creeds, languages, and general ways of living are so variegated that it is difficult to draw general conclusions regarding style. One clear characteristic is that the music is extremely rich in rhythm. The chief dancing instrument is the drum. Rhythms serve a vital function in all dancing and as a means of communication in daily life. Tribes of East Africa, such as the Sogo, Ganda, and Acholi, prefer quick and “hot” rhythms in dancing. Slow and graceful rhythms are popular among the Tusi (Watusi), Kiga, and Karamojang dancers. These rhythms are rich enough to sustain dancing without instrumental or vocal accompaniment. As with early African-American music, in nearly all areas of East Africa clapping is very common, though it is not always used to accompany dances. In various other dances, however, clapping helps singers and drummers to keep steady time. In Bugunda, drums are sounded to call people to do communal work and as in the Guinea Coast Area, drums warn people of approaching danger.

The freedom that emerged from African-American rhythmic approach was striking compared to traditional approaches to African drumming. In some African societies the privilege of playing certain musical instruments is governed by strict rules. In Ruanda, for example, the privilege of playing the six royal drums was reserved for one particular musician. Only a few young musicians of exceptional virtuosity could ever aspire to be one of the official drummers. However, traditional African drumming styles are based on multiple polyrhythms, syncopation, poly-metrical stratification, and dense textures instrumental and vocal textures. African-American jazz retained many such qualities.

Thus Pan-African rhythm traditions survived through mutation and adaptation, and formed a stylistic foundation in African-American music that was independent of the drum. Beginning in the nineteenth century, the music of Ragtime, Minstrelsy, Spirituals, Salon Music, Jubilee, Blues, and Gospel became percussive music without drums historians. The appropriation of enslaved Africans’ music by European mainstream society in the United States started at the time of early religious camp meetings (where African Americans and European Americans worshiped together in segregated, but adjacent, camp grounds) and continued to grow with the unfortunate phenomenon of the Blackface minstrelsy. Stephen Foster was the first European American to openly exploit Pan-African derived rhythms played on the African-American banjo, and incorporated them into his songs such as *Oh Susana*, which quickly became one of the most popular American songs of all time. The mixing of Pan-African traditions with European folk music continued to serve as the basis of bluegrass and country music that emerged subsequently as a consequence of African American and European Americans in rural communities in the South working and socializing together.

The power of sacred African myth

Many global religious, philosophical, and mythological traditions believe in the incorporeal spirit of an internal, intangible living being in the soul. African American “jazz” and other stylistic approaches are soul music. A spiritual nucleus to guide individual life was a quality retained from Africa. Soul is the immaterial portion of a human being that bestows individuality and humanity. It is often considered synonymous with the mind or the internal self and involves the immaterial essence, animating principle, or actuating cause of an individual life. Theologically speaking, the soul is that part of an individual which participates with divinity and survives the incarnation of the body.⁷

The sustained intensity that African-based music provided for some religious rituals related to the celebration drove African-American practitioners to a state of religious ecstasy. Sacred West African cultural practice was maintained in the Americas through such institutions as the Pentecostal Church and Voodoo practice. Shouts were generally applied in a religious context such as a spiritual dance in voodoo rituals and by worshippers in some Protestant ceremonies. It was inherited from African religious dances and was applied to a variety of contexts in America. Voodoo (or Vodun) inspired many slave revolts. Haitian nationalists found in Vodun a spiritual force that could not be separated from the people's yearning for liberation. Voodoo also kept the rhythms of Pan-Africa alive at Congo Square in New Orleans and elsewhere in the United States.

African-American jazz is soul that engages a brand of inventive reincarnation in its musical learning, growth, and dissemination process. The consciousness of past progenitors, mentors, and titans enters the bodies of new protégés to perpetuate the process of evolving the musical consciousness. Despite humanity's continual legacies of conflict, suffering, and stratification of societies, the human species is of a single fabric, all one group striving to move forward progressively. Progress is frontward or onward movement toward a destination. A destination is the physical, psychological, or spiritual place that someone or something is going to be, or is being, sent to. Reincarnation is a progressive process that allows musical traditions to continually reinvent themselves.

Jazz as a mirror of human consciousness

Jazz developed from an organic process unlike that of any other modern musical style. This process involved inventing a new African music in America that was forcibly detached from its traditional social structures, languages, musical instruments, spiritual worship, and all other aspects of traditional African culture. The evolutionary developmental progression through field hollers, children's game songs, spirituals, blues, barrelhouse, ragtime, and all other stages of advancement produced music that contained an expressive and spiritual dimension powerful enough to invade the global psychological temperament throughout the twentieth century and beyond. Since no other art form had ever been so thoroughly disconnected from its ancestral roots en masse, the innovative, expressive, and emancipated musical vortex that the new African American art form engendered was immediately addictive to all those who engaged it on assorted levels. Its power, and quality of freedom, in turn continuously fashioned supplementary nascent musical and cultural offspring (The Jazz Age, jazz dance, jazzercise, etc.). Thus jazz became an example of modern musical fission.

The African-American innovation that utilized embellishment of African-derived rhythm and melody, and reimagined European harmonic features, enabled Jazz to gradually become the most imitated stylistic approach and most significant musical explosion of the last millennium. As a consequence of its powerfully creative force, African-American jazz, as a global influence, has become largely synonymous with American music. Jazz spread its influence at a rapid pace initially after James Reese Europe took his music to France during World War I, and its influence was further accelerated after WW2, as the United States program of cultural imperialism aggressively saturated the world with its ideas, narratives, images, and cultural propaganda when it became a global economic and military super power. The pervasive dominance of all modern influential African-American music styles, including Jazz, Blues, Rhythm 'n' Blues, Motown, Soul, Funk, Rock, Disco, Hip-Hop, House, Pop, and other musical evolutions and revolutions, is nonetheless a consequence of the creation of the most independent music to ever emerge in global society—that is a clear reflection of the power and potential of Pan-African music.

Notes

- 1 Gibbons.
- 2 Unesco, *African Music* (Paris: La Revue Musicale, 1970), p. 17.
- 3 Paul Oliver, *Savannah Syncopators: African Retentions in the Blues* (New York: Stein and Day, 1974), p. 16.
- 4 Ibid., p. 17.
- 5 Oliver, *Dawn of African History*, p. 68.
- 6 Webster's New Collegiate Dictionary, 9th ed. (Springfield: G. and C. Merriam Co., 1977), p. 1491.
- 7 The Editors of Encyclopædia Britannica. www.britannica.com/topic/soul-religion-and-philosophy.

Pan-Africanism in Funk

Rickey Vincent

What is it about The Funk that is Pan-Africanist? The Funk, as it is commonly understood by the urban African American youth of the late 1960s and 1970s, is more than a sound or style; it is a way of looking at the world, an ontological view of reality that is non-Western in many respects.

As I wrote in my 1996 book *Funk*:

Funk is deeply rooted in African cosmology – the idea that people are created in harmony with the rhythms of nature and that free expression is tantamount to spiritual and mental health. If we were to look into this African philosophy, the African roots of rhythm, spiritual oneness with the cosmos, and a comfort zone with sex and aspects of the body, we would find that funkiness is an ancient and worthy aspect of life. Thus, funk in its modern sense is a deliberate reaction to – and a rejection of – the traditional Western world’s predilection for formality, pretense, and self-repression.”¹

While funk certainly is a music style that is identified through driving beats, polyrhythms, and aggressively delivered messages of street savviness and aspirations for social change, there is a spiritual notion to The Funk that transcends Westernization and functions as a means toward the development of an *African identity*. The Funk nevertheless has maintained an identity of its own through cultural and linguistic adaptations for over five decades and still remains relevant, and still remains enigmatic in the West.

Pan-Africanism

Pan-Africanism as an idea and as a theory of African redemption has had many definitions and uses. By its narrowest definition, Pan-Africanism is identified with political struggles for national liberation against colonial rule in the 20th century, and for national solidarity across continental Africa. Additional formations involve a collective consciousness and a call to action in support of Africa and peoples of African descent.

A broader, more inclusive definition involves the recognition of the centrality of African culture, specifically visual art and music, and reaches beyond the continent to incorporate

the cultural production of all peoples of African descent. If one takes this liberal accounting of the term, Pan-Africanism refers to *the global African*, and if one takes a broad accounting of the purpose of the phrase, Pan-Africanism incorporates the lived experience of one's African-influenced life, an African-influenced self-identity and consciousness, as it is experienced around the globe. Educator Rosemary Onyango defines Pan Africanism defined broadly as "a conscious identification with Africa and mutual responsibility for people of African descent to work in solidarity to liberate themselves from varied forms of oppression and exploitation."² In this sense, cultural practices of African Americans contribute to a global *creating and re-creating* of Pan-Africanism. This can also be understood in terms of literature scholar Tsitsi Jaji's notion of "stereomodernism," which provides a contemporary framework for reading "cultural practices that are both political and expressive, activated by black music and operative within the logic of pan-African solidarity."³

The black popular music in the U.S., specifically after 1968, addressed claims of black/African identity, and rhythmic (i.e. cultural) affiliations with Africa. *Funk music*, in the most popular version, as a form of black popular music from the 1970s, emerged from the black revolution of the 1960s in the U.S., and can be seen as a reflection of Pan-Africanism in this cultural context. This essay will discuss the ways Pan-Africanism can be understood in terms of The Funk, seen through the works of James Brown, Sly & the Family Stone, Earth Wind & Fire, and Parliament/Funkadelic.

In 1950s, U.S. Civil Rights Movement workers inspired "the so-called Negro" to take direct action against segregated Southern institutions. Subsequently a new militancy grew in Northern cities in the second half of the 1960s. The new Nationalism was as a result of the ideas and influence of Nation of Islam (NOI) leader Malcolm X (El Hajj Malk El Shabazz).

In 1964 Malcolm X left the Nation of Islam, and undertook the *Hajj*, to become an Orthodox Sunni Muslim. As the NOI had imprinted an idea of Islam coming from a far-off Afro-Asian land, Malcolm emerged as an authoritative figure of anti-assimilation to Western values. His many speeches and actions during the final year of his life informed a new militant black consciousness that would be expressed by members of many subsequent black radical groups.

It was Malcolm X who inspired African Americans to: Identify as "Black" vs "Negro;" to turn toward Africa for inspiration and identification, and to claim for themselves "Black Power," and a right of freedom and *self-determination*. These ideas often lacked specifics as to what exactly was meant by "freedom," and "self-determination." It would become the realm of the artists, to bring into focus what these terms would and could mean on the ground in black communities.⁴

Malcolm X and black music

In June 1964 Malcolm X made a declaration about the power of black music, that has implications for the present day. A jazz aficionado in his youth, Malcolm X delivered a *cultural* argument for black liberation. During a speech at the Audubon Ballroom, as part of the announcement for the Organization of Afro-American Unity, Malcolm articulated the social possibilities inherent in improvisational black music – jazz:

I've seen it happen. I've seen black musicians when they'd be jamming at a jam session with white musicians – a whole lot of difference. The white musician can jam if he's got some sheet music in front of him. He can jam on something that he's heard jammed before. If he's heard it, then he can duplicate it or he can imitate it or he can

read it. But that black musician, he picks up his horn and starts blowing some sounds that he never thought of before. He improvises, he creates, it comes from within. It's his soul, it's that soul music. It's the only area on the American scene where the black man has been free to create. And he has mastered it. He has shown that he can come up with something that nobody ever thought of on his horn.

Well, likewise he can do the same thing if given intellectual independence. He can come up with a new philosophy. He can come up with a philosophy that nobody has heard of yet. He can invent a society, a social system, an economic system, a political system, that is different from anything that exists or has ever existed anywhere on this earth. He will improvise; he'll bring it from within himself. And this is what you and I want.⁵

This would be the crucible by which African American artists could forge the creative energy necessary to "create a new social system" through their arts. From this point of view, black music and musicians were direct descendants of Africa and an African world view. As Archie Shepp announced at the Pan-African Cultural Festival in Algiers in 1969: "Jazz is a black power, jazz is a black power, jazz is an African power, jazz is an African music jazz is an African music, and we have come back!!"⁶

Jazz and funk

Jazz in the 1960s reflected the "awakening" of the Negro, and much of the music grew militant and evolved into what was often called "Hard Bop," led by a front-line Afrocentric avant-garde of dissonant, sonic daredevils such as Archie Shepp, Art Blakey, Donald Byrd, Charles Mingus, Lee Morgan, John Coltrane, and Miles Davis. These "free jazz" practitioners were demonstrably pro-African or pseudo-African in their approaches. Songs like "Message From Kenya," "Dahomey Dance," "Ghana," and "Mwandishi" were part of the language of the new avant-garde. Through their music they sought to present themselves as "uncolonized." Much of hard bop music teased out the rhythm structures that would follow (and be heard later in funk). They also were the first to use the terms "soul," "soul brother," "funk" and "funky." According to historian Anthony Bolden, "funky" is a term that has roots in the "Funky Butt," a song (and dance) attributed to jazz performer Buddy Bolden as far back as the late 1800s.⁷

While jazz, as Dizzy Gillespie has stated "was created for people to dance," many jazz artists of the 1960s were ambivalent about the dancefloor. Jazz was still beholden to the "be-bop" masters of the 1950s, who had set out to deliberately make music with an intellectual approach, rather than catering to the dance beats of over-commercialized *swing* of the WWII years. But the musical revolution continued. Miles Davis explained his new direction at the end of the 1960s: I was listening to a lot of James Brown, and I liked the way he used his guitar in his music. I always loved the blues and wanted to play it ... you know, the sound of the \$1.50 drums and the harmonicas and two-chord blues. I had to get back to that now because what we had been doing was just getting really abstracted.⁸

Miles Davis, under the influence of his then wife Betty Davis (Betty Mabry), would turn his back on the free-form, acoustic combo jazz he was doing, and began to explore electronic sounds and electric guitars, fusing blues riffs with African drums, further abandoning the traditional song structure, and, creating a sound all his own. Later, his former pianist Herbie Hancock, and followers such as George Duke, Stanley Clarke, Lonnie Liston Smith

and Grover Washington, Jr would bring about a true fusion of improvisational sensibility over soulful dance grooves, establishing *jazz-funk*.

It would be the Rhythm and Blues artists that would drive the masses onto the dance-floor. Their works often implicitly reflected the celebrations of Africa that the jazz masters were pronouncing. Soul music became the name for the popular sounds of black pride that developed in the 1960s. Soul reflected the growing moral authority of the Civil Rights Movement, fused with the excitement of the new sounds on the streets. Often people would dance to soul music, but “listen” to jazz. It was members of the James Brown band that would effectively bridge the two worlds of music. These musicians were typically jazz players, who reluctantly took on roles in the traveling Brown band for the money. Along the way a new style of music emerged: funk. As JB’s trombonist Fred Wesley stated:

I’ve always held the belief that funk and jazz are basically the same thing, with emphasis on different elements and playing with different attitudes. Jazz is cool and slick and subtle, emphasizing the melodic and harmonic side of the music, and appeals to the more cerebral listener. Funk is bold, arrogant and aggressive, emphasizing the hard downbeats and tricky rhythms of the music, and tends to appeal more to the booty-shaking listener.⁹

James Brown and the funk

The spark of this musical transformation is “The Godfather of Soul,” James Brown. Raised in a Georgia brothel, the young performer made a name for himself with his intensely expressive screams and moves onstage, earning the moniker “Soul Brother Number One” by the mid 1960s. A singular visionary, Brown rearranged the structure of the music popular in black America, by building on the expressive modes of Little Richard and Ray Charles, and directing his band to do away with the traditional chord structures and rhythms of the day. Brown directed his band to “get in a groove” and “hit it on the one” and essentially to de-emphasize the melodic aspects of the instruments and foreground the rhythmic elements. With a different feel percolating beneath the songs, Brown could surf along the rhythms with extemporaneous ad-libs, freestyle rhymes about street life, about self-pride, about social awareness, about relationships, and about the dance itself.

I discovered that my strength was not in the horns, it was in the rhythm. I was hearing everything, even the guitars, like they were drums.¹⁰

Brown wrote of his emergent new sounds in 1965. Later he would comment: “I also took gospel and jazz and defied all the laws. If I played eight bars and felt like I should play nine or ten, I would play nine or ten, as long as I felt the people groovin. That’s where the extended play come from.”¹¹ Brown’s “extended play” of his hit songs, further reconnected U.S. black music with Afro-diasporic rhythm-driven musics across the *Black Atlantic*.

James Brown’s “rhythm revolution” took place as a *Third World Revolution* was taking place, and West African nations were “hearing” black American music in a new way. Since the dawn of U.S. Slavery, part of the process of disenfranchising and disorienting the African was not only to remove physical artifacts from his/her body, but to remove all remnants of cultural identity. Thus, in early America, use of *the drum* was outlawed by slave owners. An argument can be made that with each stage of “freedom” the Negro attained, s/he was

developing musical adaptations that involved a return of the drum into their lives. James Brown played a major role in this. In 1968 LeRoi Jones wrote the following passage that describes the way James Brown's music could "re-Africanize" the space.

If you play James Brown (say, "Money Won't Change You/but time will take you out") in a bank, the total environment is changed. Not only the sardonic comment of the lyrics, but the total emotional placement of the rhythm, instrumentation and sound. An energy is released in the bank, a summoning of images that take the bank, and everybody in it, on a trip. That is, they visit another place. A place where Black People live. ... But dig, not only is it a place where Black People live, it is a place, in the spiritual precincts of its emotional telling, where Black People move in almost absolute openness and strength.¹²

Brown's extended rhythmic grooves, his highly rhythmic and percussive style of improvising his vocals, and his passionate screams became essential elements of West African popular music from the mid 1960s onward. As biographer Michael Veal writes, The "Scream Contest" became a staple of West African musical entertainment in the 1960s, in which artists sought to *out-James Brown* one another.¹³ Anthropologist John Miller Chernoff wrote that his African subjects often queried him about James Brown's music. "Many of my friends who were most eager to help me understand their Highlife songs were just as eager for my help in translating James Brown's slang, which they interpreted with no end of enjoyment and delight."¹⁴

The renowned leader of popular African music, was Fela Anikulapo Kuti. Kuti started his career a mainstream entertainer in 1960s Nigeria, who had traveled to the U.S.A. in 1969 to study jazz. His politicization under the guidance of U.S. activist Sandra Izadore led to Kuti devoting his entire career to making songs that served to challenge colonial state power and to inspire his followers worldwide. He developed a brand of music that fused the modal jazz stylings he was studying, with the relentless rhythms of his native African "Highlife" dance music, and James Brown funk, and dubbed the term *Afrobeat*. Claiming "Music is the Weapon," Kuti would become a worldwide leader in resistance music until his death in 1997. Kuti, who was frequently marketed as "The African James Brown," was reluctant to make overt proclamations of his allegiance to Brown's work, but did acknowledge that Brown's work felt "African." "I didn't see James Brown as a leader, I saw him as a beautiful musician." Kuti told Barney Hoskins in 1983. "At the time, it was like, this guy is an African. That's how I saw his music."¹⁵

Upon James Brown's death on December 25th, 2006, one consistent theme about his legacy was that while he was an American icon, he did not dilute or soften the tone of his work to gain popularity within white America. As lifelong friend Reverend Al Sharpton has stated "he didn't crossover to white, he made white crossover to black."¹⁶ Brown's work was essentially the template for the "Africanizing" of the U.S. black population, of taking people to a place of their own. This process would be identified through "The Funk" through the 1970s and beyond.

Sly & the Family Stone and universal funk

The multi-racial band from the San Francisco Bay Area in 1968 redefined The Funk and its use. The group was led by Sylvester Stewart, the eldest son of parents that migrated from Denton, Texas in the 1940s. Raised in the Pentecostal church, the multi-

instrumentalist Stewart performed in jazz groups, rock groups and a harmonizing vocal quintet while in high school. Stewart wrote, arranged, produced and recorded music at Autumn Records in San Francisco, and by 1966 was a radio deejay, veteran producer and bandleader during heyday of the “Hippie” movement in San Francisco. Renaming himself Sly Stone, the firebrand constructed a band of diverse players (two white men, two black women among the seven core members), and developed a sound that fused the power and energy of rebellious rock music, was driven rhythmically with the James Brown inspired grooves, and soared soulfully above the innovative arrangements with gospel church intensity. Important message songs such as “Everyday People,” “Stand!,” “You Can Make It If You Try,” and “Don’t Call Me Nigger, Whitey” were crucial breakthroughs in tone and tenor for the younger generation (of all races) that were transformed and often deeply affected by the group.

In early 1970 the group released a song driven almost entirely by the bass guitar, titled “Thank You Falletin’ Me Be Micelf Agin,” which became a #1 pop song. The syncopated thumb slapping and string popping by bassist Larry Graham set in motion a decade of funk bass playing that followed. In addition, the celebration of “being myself again,” was reflected by the individualized outfits worn by each band member. Gone were the crisp, coordinated uniforms worn by disciplined background performers that was typical of R&B stars to that point. In the Family Stone, “Everybody is a Star,” and everyone was *stage front*, implying that everyone enjoyed “equality” and had an equal value within the act. Applied to society at large, this image offered an inspiring social breakthrough, which was followed up by a generation of funk bands.

The hooks, basslines, lyrics, chants, and the assertive, outlandish celebration of diversity and difference – all while at the top of the charts on black *and* white radio – set the Family Stone apart from any other act at the time. Griel Marcus explained their impact in terms of *freedom*.

There was an enormous freedom to the band’s sound. It was complex, because freedom is complex; wild and anarchic, like the wish for freedom; sympathetic, affectionate, and coherent, like the reality of freedom. And it was all celebration, all affirmation, a music of endless humor and delight, like a fantasy of freedom.¹⁷

As a result of this “fantasy of freedom,” multi-member funk bands emerged in the 1970s that celebrated musicality, celebrated black rhythms and black identity, celebrated individuality within a group structure, and sought a *higher purpose* while performing as entertainers in a capitalist enterprise. The idea of art for a higher purpose can be drawn from African aesthetics.¹⁸

Yet the Family Stone often defied serious analysis. Their “free-form” appearance could be dismissed as “bohemian,” as originating simply from proximity to the white counter-culture of the Bay Area, instead of as a progression in *black liberation*. The very notion of a “black bohemian” – as someone comfortable with their blackness yet serious about their own eclectic pursuits, rather than white acceptance – was not framed with approval within the black radical milieu at the time. Sly Stone – and perhaps to a greater extent black guitarist Jimi Hendrix – not only maintained their “identities” within a white dominated music industry, they transformed the nature of that industry for a brief period of time. Sly Stone’s music stood defiantly at the crossroads of racial love and racial hate, of group identification and group diffusion, of future community and past traditions. This was becoming the truer nature of “diasporic” Africans in the 1970s. As Stuart Hall writes:

The diaspora experience ... is defined, not by essence or purity, but by the recognition of a necessary heterogeneity and diversity; by a conception of 'identity' which lives through, not despite, difference; by *hybridity*. Diaspora identities are those which are constantly producing and reproducing themselves anew, through transformation and difference.¹⁹

Funk bands were created essentially to "harmonize differences" through the rhythms, their looks and their energized performances. By the early 1970s, "bohemian" bands such as Funkadelic, Mandrill, War, the Bar-Kays and Earth Wind & Fire emerged in the wake of the Family Stone. Soul stars such as The Temptations, Isaac Hayes, Curtis Mayfield, Stevie Wonder and Marvin Gaye all developed a more street-oriented, funky "bohemian" look and sound. Aretha Franklin had a "black power" moment of her own, in 1971 when she first took control of her own production, penned her funkier song "Rock Steady," and self-produced her award-winning album *Young, Gifted and Black*.

By the early seventies, funk bands had turned away from traditional (Western) constructs of presentation and abandoned the formal R&B uniforms entirely. The earthy, or "tribal" look was an integral part of black bands' attire, and their often outrageous look resembled in many ways the masks and adornments worn by traditional African performers. The 1970s group that took this to heart was Earth Wind & Fire.

The elements: Earth, Wind & Fire (EWF)

Emerging from the Chicago Black Power Movement, a band of jazz musicians led by percussionist and arranger Maurice White, who had finished a stint as music director at Chess Records, and three years in the successful soul-jazz group The Ramsey Lewis Trio, would develop an act that would become the best-selling of the 1970s, of any genre, worldwide.

EWF began at a time when Chicago-based free-jazz practitioners such as Phil Cohran's Heritage Ensemble, The Art Ensemble of Chicago, and Sun Ra's Arkestra were exploring African aesthetics in their works. These artists frequented the Afro-Arts Theater – a regional hub of Black Nationalist ideas, art, and culture – and were no doubt influenced by the Nation of Islam, which was headquartered in Chicago in the 1960s, and the Black Panther Party, with their leader Fred Hampton seeking to organize people of all races into their "Rainbow Coalition." Playing on the popularity of Astrology in the Black Community, and the prominence of pseudo-African slang, styles, and rituals such as Kwanzaa, Maurice White was able to create a musical imaginary that celebrated blackness, while maintaining a universal appeal. In his autobiography, White stated:

I wanted EW&F to use the symbols of Egypt in our presentation, to remind black folks of our rich and glorious heritage ... Our rich culture didn't start on slave ships or in cotton fields ... It started in Egypt. Knowing where you came from gives you confidence and pride that can't be easily taken away. Egypt gave the planet mathematics, astronomy, science, medicine, the written word, religion, symbolism and spirituality. Despite what centuries of distortion have told us, the civilized world did not start in Europe: it started in Egypt. This is the core reason I turned to Egyptology: it encourages self-respect.²⁰

After two years of toiling as a free-jazz oriented outfit, White recruited new musicians, and stepped forward as co-lead singer (along with Philip Bailey) and began producing accessible,

popular music that was nevertheless driven by Afro-Cuban rhythms, and showcased visual art that spoke to Africa in dramatic ways. White developed a signature sound with a “thumb piano” that he called a Kalimba, that permeated the music of EWF through the decade of the 1970s. The album art, and live concerts also showcased an affection for Egyptology and pyramids, with philosophies that appeared to be consistent with African cosmology and a belief in humanity’s oneness.

Their first hit funk song in 1974, “Mighty Mighty” explained, after verses on morals and courage in the face of difficulties: “we are people of the mighty/mighty people of the sun/in our hearts lie/all the answers/to the truth you can’t run from.”²¹ The goal of EWF was to be epic in scope. “We have a message to give but we don’t think we have to preach to air it. White told *Jet* magazine in 1978. “We want to change traditional concepts, negative thoughts about life. God and cosmic forces within the universe. We can’t reach everyone but those we do reach can be seeds to plant flowers that bloom for others to pick.”²² With hit songs like “Shining Star,” “Serpentine Fire,” and “In The Stone,” EWF sought to, and largely succeeded in imbibing an African aesthetic into Black popular music in America, at a time when accommodation to the status quo was becoming the norm, and most black bands were having trouble remaining in the public view regardless of their look or orientation. Researcher Trenton Bailey writes:

White encouraged audiences to transcend time by using pyramids as space ships in concerts. He encouraged fans to elevate their minds by employing ancient Egyptian imagery in the visual art. And he encouraged listeners to transcend space by fantasizing (‘Fantasy’) and meditating (‘Getaway’).²³

Earth, Wind and Fire provided a grounding for a generation of artists, and in many ways an escape – and were creating a universally popular *Wakanda* – a space of black brilliance and freedom of expression – for their followers at the time.

The Mothership Connection

George Clinton and his band Parliament/Funkadelic was the premier black act in the late 1970s, the decade of funk. Raised in North Carolina as the eldest of nine children, as a teen Clinton moved up North, and became a leader of a singing group operating out of a barbershop in Plainfield, New Jersey. As a ringleader of sorts, Clinton was able to incorporate the sounds and styles of the street characters that frequented the barbershop; the drug dealers, pimps, and hustlers of the underground economies on the outskirts of the New York metropolis.

As the “street narratives” and psychedelic influences became stylish and trendy, Clinton incorporated these themes into his vocal group The Parliaments, and his backing band *Funkadelic*. George Clinton was able to build on the emerging popularity of the urban street narratives, as well as his comic takes on the absurdities in black American life, and build a musical and cultural movement based on “Funk” as a music and lifestyle.

To the Clinton ensemble, “funk” would become something larger than the sum of the parts, a vision of redemption, of communion with higher forces, of “oneness with the universe.” Larger themes of transcendence, of “rising above it all” continued throughout the works of P-Funk, despite the vulgar and often jarring subject matter, on songs like “Cosmic Slop,” “Maggot Brain,” and “Good Thoughts, Bad Thoughts.” As Clinton told Lenny

Henry in 1993, “‘One Nation Under A Groove’ went beyond uniting everybody under one roof, it meant: ‘Everybody *on the one*. The whole universe on the same pulse, All things is on the one with the universe.’”²⁴

In 1975 Clinton’s band Parliament broke through with hit record sales with “Give Up The Funk (Tear The Roof Off The Sucker),” “Chocolate City,” “Mothership Connection (Star Child),” and “P-Funk (Wants To Get Funked Up).” The songs built upon the rhythmic effects of James Brown funk, as many musicians from Brown’s operation (Fred Wesley, Maceo Parker, Bootsy Collins) had joined Clinton by then. These funk grooves were augmented by Clinton’s Afro-futuristic ideas, and keyboard player Bernie Worrell’s adroit use of electronic synthesizers to give funk listeners an other-worldly yet streetwise experience.

Clinton’s music spoke of (black) visitors from “The Chocolate Milky Way,” that revealed “the concept of specially designed afro-nauts capable of funkating galaxies.” Clinton claimed that these beings placed special information about The Funk, hidden among “the secrets of the pyramids,” but would be waiting “until a more positive attitude toward this most sacred phenomenon – cloned funk – could be acquired.” While these fanciful notions of blacks in space had been heard before (Sun Ra’s “Space is the Place”) in the case of Clinton, he was fusing these ideas of lofty travel with a grounding in grooves from the James Brown alumni in his band, and reaching mass black audiences through radio airplay.

With the help of record executive Neil Bogart, Clinton parlayed the success of the 1975 album *Mothership Connection* and its follow up *The Clones of Dr. Funkenstein* into a major national tour with state-of-the-art visual props and stage effects. *The P-Funk Earth Tour* was the crowning achievement of the band, and was a fundamental element of hip hop’s Pan-Africanist ideas later on. During the shows, a massive spaceship would descend on stage, with Clinton (as *Dr. Funkenstein*) emerging from the ship to “Give Up The Funk” to the masses in the audience. Clinton’s band would be driving a funk groove, while the multiple vocalists would be chanting “Swing Down, Let Me Ride,” a line which tied into tropes of slavery era spirituals. It was as if Sly Stone’s desire to “take you higher” was realized by Clinton’s Mothership that could engineer the lifting by itself.

Clinton followed up this major experience with a synthesizer driven sound, led by Bernie Worrell and later Walter “Junie” Morrison’s brilliance on the keyboards. These were sounds to bring their audience to the future and back. This was an important feature of The Funk, that is at once primal, and futuristic. Later songs that drew on the ironies of the futuristic age (and fears of a loss of the soul inside a machine) included: “Flash Light,” “Sir Nose D’Voidoffunk,” “Aqua-Boogie,” “One Nation Under A Groove,” and “Atomic Dog.” In his 1983 essay “On African American Music, From Bebop to Rap,” Cornel West discusses the late 1970s P-Funk recordings, referring to them as *technofunk*.

In addition to being a product of the genius of George Clinton, technofunk constitutes a second grand break of Afro-American musicians from American mainstream music ... Like Charlie Parker’s bebop, George Clintons technofunk both Africanizes and technologizes Afro-American popular music – with polyrhythms on polyrhythms, less melody and freaky electronically distorted vocals. Similar to bebop, technofunk unabashedly exacerbates and accentuates the “blackness” of black music, the “Afro-Americanness” of Afro-American music – its irreducibility, inimitability and uniqueness. Funkadelic and Parliament defy nonblack emulation; they assert their distinctiveness-and the distinctiveness of “Funk” in Afro-America.²⁵

With the specter of assimilation an ever-present force in the 1970s and the colorblind multiculturalism of disco music dominating the crossover radio at the time, Clinton's work (and to a lesser extent the pop Egyptology of Earth Wind & Fire) served to keep a light focused toward an African world view even as the race neutral (white identified) technological world was overtaking mainstream American life.

P-Funk engaged with intellectual ideas during a time when pop music had less and less to say to the masses. P-Funk displayed intellectualism and mocked it at the same time. Clinton, with the audacity of a funk-master, dared to play with ideas once considered sacrosanct in western discourse: science, philosophy, politics, and history. Clinton made fun of much of these ideas and rendered them to the realm of the physical & natural.

Microbiologically speaking,
When I start churnin', burnin' and turnin'
It'll make your atoms move so fast
Expandin' your molecules
Causing a friction fire
Burnin' you on your neutrons
Causing you to scream
"Hit me in the proton, *BABY!*"²⁶
Parliament – Dr. Funkenstein (1976)

Through comic parody and irreverence, Clinton's works helped to explain and define the presence of African Americans in U.S. post-Civil Rights Movement modernity. In the 1970s there was a need to construct an understanding of an historically marginalized people inhabiting newly "integrated" social spaces. P-Funk addressed this on the song "Chocolate City," referring to predominantly black urban spaces such as Washington, D.C. Their chant "God bless Chocolate City and its vanilla suburbs" described a new understanding of de-segregation perhaps better than any demographic data produced at the time.

The specter of integration and social isolation in the 1970s was a key theme in the music of P-Funk. In 1978, during a time when commercial entertainers were being urged to simplify their lyrics and song titles, Parliament released *Funkentelechy vs the Placebo Syndrome*, an album of sonic experimentation and soul-rendering concepts that invites deconstruction to this day. Clinton created a character – *Sir Nose D'Voidoffunk* – that had become so isolated and self-absorbed that he suffered from a syndrome of superficial material values – "The Placebo Syndrome" – and refused to dance. In this way, P-Funk could address the social ills facing society – with a primary solution being the dance – and of finding one's own natural rhythms, or flow, represented by "entelechy," which is defined as a natural regulating force within the body.²⁷

"Funkentelechy vs the Placebo Syndrome" served as a parable on the scope of The Force (of one's natural life) vs The Empire (Westernization) in the popular *Star Wars* film saga, which began in 1977. These and many other examples showed the way George Clinton was able to help people free themselves from Westernization, even as technology was furthering its grip on the daily life of the modern population. It was not difficult for some people to see the timeless (ancient) values in the futuristic tales. Journalist David Jackson wrote in 1979:

Clinton demonstrated a sensitive, mature and intelligent understanding of the cultural traditions of black Americans ... Clinton has paid serious attention to Black music, dance

and folklore, and is now along with James Brown, a fine artist expressing the hopes and joys and fears of his race. His music is for all dispossessed people of the world; for perpetuation of communion with the ancestral spirits in the fight for universal freedom. Clinton's music is part of a force that will unite the dead, the living, and the unborn to rebuild the destroyed shrines of the root race.²⁸

"Bring that beat back:" hip hop and afro-futurism

As a result of the works of Clinton, White, and others, one element of hip hop has built on the Afro-Futuristic themes within the music and sought to continue and expand on these ideas. One of the "founders" of hip hop, Afrika Bambaataa developed an organization he termed "The Zulu Nation," which involved youth development with a structure similar to the Nation of Islam. The organization taught "infinity lessons" that emphasized moral thinking, and re-centered Africa as the source of honorable values that would become central to the messages within early hip hop.

Musically, Bambaataa's 1982 release of "Planet Rock" was a definitive electro-funk recording, and a showcase of hip hop to the world. "Planet Rock" had a futuristic sound, and felt *automated*, as if humans were not involved. Early hip hop music – Electro-Funk – involved the making of futuristic beats, hooks, and sounds designed to survive the urban cityscape, the concrete jungle, in which rappers could provide the "soul" inside the machine.

In 1990 the rap group X-Clan introduced their Afrocentric philosophy on their album *To The East, Blackwards*:

Funk upon a time
In the days of vangelorious
The tribe-dimensional houses of energy
released the original powers
to the translators of the interplanetary funk code
Funkin' religion, funkin' lesson
Key bearers, funkin' to the East
X-Clan, Earth bound 1990²⁹

The album is heavily laden with samples of P-Funk music. Once again a funk-based act engages with the "secrets of the pyramids" trope. The idea that The Funk is ever present yet elusive to define is a hallmark of its longevity.

While the funk faded from the mainstream radio in the 1980s and beyond, it has been reconstituted in hip hop samples that continue to this day. Much of current dance music worldwide is built on the foundations of 1970s funk. The hip hop deejay mix invariably involves the mixing of funk songs, beats, and rhythms; the Afro-futurism found in the 1980s Electro-funk of groups such as Soul Sonic Force, Rammellzee, The Egyptian Lover, and World Class Wrecking Cru (which featured a young Dr. Dre) led to the contemporary industry of "Electronic Dance Music" or EDM which is a worldwide popular music phenomenon.

In some regions, such as New Orleans and Los Angeles, funk continues to thrive. In Washington, D.C. the street funk sounds of the 1970s developed into a live band style known as Go-Go. Large, heavily percussive funk bands dominated the nights in black D.

C. in the 1980s and 1990s, often playing extended songs late into the night – not unlike Afro-diasporic dance music across the centuries. As Natalie Hopkinson explains in her book *Go-Go Live*:

Black music is not just entertainment. It is a conversation across time and space. The same ways of speaking appear and reappear throughout the African diaspora throughout time, geography and context. Through a transatlantic call and response among Africa, the Americas, and Europe, these musical traditions have survived centuries of trauma, holocaust, slavery, and dislocation with remarkable resilience. As old forms die out, new combinations of the same components appear in their place. The riffs, rhythms, and repetition common to music throughout the African diaspora translate into social structures ... But the root lies in Africa.³⁰

Conclusion

James Brown reinforced “the groove” and re-oriented black popular music toward rhythms, polyrhythms and rhythmic effects – that reminded his followers of Africa. Brown’s explicit assertions of race pride served to redefine black music, as the music from the streets. His music was admired and imitated throughout West Africa. Brown’s work was *Pan-African* in its appeal and its function. Sly & the Family Stone expanded ideas of “freedom” and developed a “psychedelic” look and feel that spoke to individual identity within a collective, and was held together through a range of rhythmic & sonic innovations. “The Family Stone” forged a non-conformist identity, and opened the doors for bands to represent multiple non-Western and non-conformist imaginings of community. During the middle 1970s Earth Wind & Fire championed black excellence and celebrated Egyptology – imbibed through an African identification – incorporating popular songs, album art, dazzling live shows and catchy, funky grooves. George Clinton’s bands consistently celebrated the infinite liberation potential within the music and the potential of the target audience for the music: urban black youth. Through pseudo-spiritual lyrics and chants, and elaborate rhythmic and melodic innovations, Clinton’s music “re-Africanized” black music amidst the pop clutter of the 1970s. In short, these acts were each creating a *Wakanda* – an imagined space of black freedom and brilliance – decades before the *Black Panther* comic book character and film topped the movie charts.

Clinton’s music, along with Brown and Stone, forms the core of hip hop samples in the 1980s and 1990s, as hip hop continued to produce “authentic” urban tales through rhythm and rhyme. The legacy of *The Funk* may indeed be that from its inception it served to “re-Africanize” the U.S. African American population, then galvanized its links to the global African population, and continues to spread to all of humanity.

Notes

- 1 Vincent, Rickey. *Funk: The Music, the People and the Rhythm of The One*. New York: St. Martin’s Press 1996, 4.
- 2 Onyango, Rosemary A. “Echoes of Pan Africanism in *Black Panther*.” In *Africology: The Journal of Pan African Studies*, vol.11, no.9, August 2018, 39. Also see Ali, Marimba. *Yuguru: An African-Centered Critique of European Cultural Thought and Behavior*. Baltimore: Africa World Press, 1994.
- 3 Jahi, Tutsi *Africa In Stereo: Modernism, Music, and Pan-African Solidarity* Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014, 14.

- 4 Baraka, Amiri. "Emory Douglas: A 'Good Brother,' a 'Bad' Artist," in *Black Panther: The Revolutionary Art of Emory Douglas*, ed. Sam Durant (New York: Rizzoli, 2006), 171.
- 5 Malcolm X, *By Any Means Necessary*. New York: Ballantine, 1992, 63–64.
- 6 Archie Shepp *Live at the Panafican Festival*. BYG Records – 529, 351, 191. Also see Phalafala, Uhuru Portia. "Black music and pan-African solidarity in Keorapetse Kgosisile's poetry," in *Safundi: The Journal of South African and American Studies*, 2017, 2.
- 7 Bolden, Anthony, ed. *The Funk Era and Beyond: New Perspectives on Black Popular Culture (Signs of Race)*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2008, 21.
- 8 Davis, Miles with Quincy Troupe. *The Autobiography*. New York: Simon & Schuster, 1990, 288.
- 9 Wesley, Fred. *Hit Me Fred: Recollections of a Sideman*. Durham: Duke University Press, 2003, 191.
- 10 Brown, James with Bruce Tucker. *James Brown the Godfather of Soul*. New York: Macmillan, 1986, 158.
- 11 Vincent, op cit., 74.
- 12 Jones, Leroi. *Black Music*. New York: William Morrow, 1970, 186.
- 13 Veal, Michael. *Fela: The Life and Times of an African Musical Icon*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2000, 58.
- 14 Chernoff, John Miller. *African Rhythm and African Sensibility*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1979, 73–74.
- 15 Kuti, Fela Anikulapo. Interview with Barney Hopkins, London 1983. In *Fela: From West Africa to West Broadway*. Edited by Trevor Shoonmaker. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2003. 152.
- 16 Al Sharpton in CNN broadcast *James Brown: Say it Proud*, 2007.
- 17 Marcus, Greil. *Mystery Train: Images of America in Rock and Roll Music*. New York: Dutton, 1990 (1975), 91.
- 18 See Vincent, op cit. *Funk*.
- 19 Hall, Stuart. "Cultural Identity and Diaspora." In J. Rutherford (ed), *Identity, Community, culture and difference* (pp. 222–237). London: Lawrence and Wilshart, 1990, 235.
- 20 White, Maurice with Herb Powell: *My Life With Earth, Wind & Fire*. New York: Amistad, 2016, 147–8.
- 21 Earth Wind & Fire, "Mighty, Mighty" in Earth, Wind & Fire, *The Essentials* Columbia C2K 86, 661.
- 22 Berry, Bill. "Hottest of The Hot Groups." *Ebony Magazine*, July 1978, 36.
- 23 Bailey, Trenton. *KemetiC Consciousness: A Study Of Ancient Egyptian Themes In The Lyrics And Visual Art Of Earth, Wind & Fire, 1973–1983*. Dissertation Clark Atlanta University. 2017, 213.
- 24 George Clinton in "Lenny Henry Hunts the Funk," episode of *The South Bank Show*, Directed by Tony Knox. Aired January 12, 1992.
- 25 West, Cornel. "On Afro American Music, From Bebop to Rap." In *The Cornel West Reader*. New York: Civitas Books, 2000, 479.
- 26 Parliament, "Dr. Funkenstein," in *The Best Of Parliament: Give Up The Funk*. PolyGram – 314 526 995–2, 1995.
- 27 Vincent, op cit, 253–264.
- 28 Jackson, David. "What's That Funky Smell?" in *New York Amsterdam News* February 24th, 1979, 63.
- 29 X-Clan – "Funkin' Lesson" in *To The East, Blackwards*. 4th & Broadway 444 019–2, 1990.
- 30 Hopkinson, Natalie. *Go-Go Live: The Musical Life and Death of a Chocolate City*. Durham: Duke University Press, 2012, 48.

Pan-African Aesthetic

Pan-Africanism in Afro-Beat

Shawn O'Neal

On Monday May 6 of 2013 I stood at the front of the stage at the Larimer Lounge in Denver Colorado to watch R&B duo THEEsatisfaction as well as the subsequent headliner, experimental hip hop duo Shabazz Palaces. Some of the music playing in between performances was none other than Fela Anikulapo-Kuti. I was in the process of completing the first year of my graduate degree in global history, preparing to submit a research paper on Fela Kuti entitled, *Colonialism: The Lyrics of Fela Anikulapo-Kuti, and the Delineation of Cultural Identity, Modernization, and the Colonial Description*. As I was watching THEE Satisfaction who are Africana women, and Shabazz Palaces who are Africana men, and contemplating the research I was about to submit, I realized that there was a glaring void in my analysis. The amalgamation of hearing Fela Kuti's Afro-Beat, among the music of Catherine Harris-White and Stasia Irons, with the ensuing sounds of Ishmael Butler and Tendai Maraire, provided an extensive essence of Pan African aesthetics and Kuti's Afro-Beat. I realized although Afro-Beat music is the creation of Fela Kuti, hitherto I failed to consider that women as well as men are instrumental to the foundations of Afro-Beat as well as Pan African aesthetics.

Introduction and the Blueprint of Afro-Beat

The initial explosive rhythm and melody of the song "My Lady Frustration" by Nigerian musician and activist Fela Anikulapo-Kuti begins with a throbbing bass line that quickly culminates into a captivating surge of drums, percussion, brass horns, jangling guitar, and Fela's bellowing voice. Fela's band is in full-driving force within fourteen seconds of the song's more than seven-minute length. Listeners unfamiliar with Fela Kuti, may be tempted to believe they are hearing a funk/soul anthem by James Brown, or one of Miles Davis's jazz-funk fusion ensembles. The cadence and character of Fela's vocalization suggest a familiar but sometimes unrecognizable dictum that conjures thoughts of language creolization, musical hybridity, and musical unification of varied cultures. The music in question is regarded as "Afro-Beat." Afro-Beat was coined by Fela Anikulapo-Kuti describing his new-found consciousness associated with his art, to illustrate the struggles of Africana people

globally, and to discuss world-altering events of the past and present, such as the African slave trade, the African diaspora, government corruption within his own locality, and the European colonization of black and brown bodies universally. More importantly, Afro-Beat music is one of the first incarnations of what is designated as Pan-African aesthetics.

Pan-African aesthetics is an intrinsic element of music, performance, literature, and visual art, played and performed by Africana folk articulating, through artistic expression, essential ideas found in Pan African liberation, revitalization, and social, cultural, and political values and reflections. Pan-African aesthetics are manifested in Reggae, Hip Hop, Ghanaian Highlife, African American Jazz, African American Soul and R&B, and Kuti's Afro-Beat. Nigerian Author and Professor Tejumola Olaniyan describes Afro-Beat music by stating, "Afro-Beat interpolates you as a member of the oppressed lower classes, insistently reminds you of the harshness of your life, and now and then shows you in a very bad light those who profit from the harsh system, so that you can confront them; its horizon is simultaneously transcultural, transnational, and transcontinental."¹ It is the most multicultural of Nigerian popular musics.² Fela's devised Afro-Beat expression operates as a Pan-African aesthetic and essential soundtrack of Pan-Africanism, and is founded on the political, social, and cultural events of women and men of Africana descent, offering platforms of resistance to globalized-hegemonic repressions and ideological state apparatuses.

Lemi Ghariokwu, the artist for many of Fela's most compelling album covers, is shown in Philip Alexander Gibney's 2014 documentary *Finding Fela*, characterizing Fela as a courageous combatant of oppression ever ready to face the consequences authoritarianism.³ Fela's life and work demonstrates the complexities involved in Pan Africanism as well as the aesthetic value of one of its designated art mediums, music. The various definitions of Pan-Africanism delineated particularly but not exclusively by William B. Ackah and P. Olisanwuche Esedebe ought to be addressed as a point of departure to summarize the significant epistemologies that have informed Pan Africanism since 1776. I find it especially vital to reference Paul Gilroy's *The Black Atlantic: Modernity and Double Consciousness* Chapter Three entitled "Jewels Brought from Bondage: Black Music and the Politics of Authenticity," to demonstrate the ways in which African diasporic music and Pan-African aesthetics are performances of what I deem "audio intersectionality," and prominent countercultures of modernity.

Ghanaian Highlife music, regarded as a precursor to Fela's creation of the Afro-Beat musical form, requires engagement. Highlife music is a prime example of the cultural transferences resulting from the African diaspora, and a demonstration of European and American musical influences fundamental to Afro-Beat expression and expansion. Addressing Ghanaian Highlife will nuance and contextualize the roots of Pan-African aesthetic and Afro-Beat by gendering arguments, presenting the claim that women were integral to Highlife music and Afro-Beat's formulation, utilizing Nana Abena Amoah-Ramey's text *Female Highlife Performers in Ghana: Expression, Resistance, and Advocacy*. Nana Amoah-Ramey argues, during Highlife's golden age especially in the 1960s, 1970s, and beyond, "more than thirty records featuring over twenty female artists" were significant in female Highlife artist's continuous participation in mainstream African music.⁴ Although men were much more visible in the historically patriarchal music business, female Highlife artists such as Awurama Badu and Paulina Oduro contributed to Pan African aesthetics similarly to E.T. Mensah's Tempos Band that would later influence Afro-Beat.

Equally vital to a historical structuring of Pan Africanism and Ghanaian Highlife, genealogical analysis of Fela Kuti's life is necessary to display Afrobeat's chronological past, and its cultural and stylistic reciprocation with respect to African American Jazz, and Funk/Soul musics. The theoretical ideology that I designate "audio intersectionality," will be engaged as

a method of analyzing varied musical styles, and experiential soundscapes of people of Africana descent functioning as an aural and corporeal dialectical praxis to frame their race, gender, and sexuality within artistic performance and platforms of activism. Queer of color critique as a methodological analytic, particularly the philosophies of Roderick A. Ferguson and José Esteban Muñoz, informs audio intersectionality. Fela Kuti's concerts involving song, dance, traditional African attire, multi-gender performance, political and social orotundity, and distinct deconstruction reconstruction of traditional musical form encapsulates the utilization of creative production, corporeal awareness, and love and anger, allowing one to contemplate fresh theoretical ideas. Michael Veal proclaims, "Blaring from record shops throughout Lagos, its stabbing horn lines, aggressive jazz solos, and irresistible rhythm—all united under Fela's coarse, hemp-smoked voice—came to be heard as the sound of rebellion itself."⁵ Veal's description of self-conscious exploration when hearing and feeling Kuti's compositions summoning one's ability to interrogate and agitate antagonistic realities, applies to the corporeal engagement of audio intersectionality.

I will engage in Fela's relationship with African American activist Sandra Izsadore who is credited with introducing him to 1960s and 1970s African American social movements, such as the Black Panther Party of Self Defense, influencing Fela's self-explorations of black consciousness, and the politicizing of his music, furthering my argument that women are central to Ghanaian Highlife thus Afrobeat. Fela biographer Carlos Moore's tape-recorded interviews translated into first person accounts chronicles Fela's intimate feelings of Sandra, "She's the one who spoke to me about ... Africa! For the first time I heard things I'd never heard before about Africa! Sandra was my adviser."⁶ Sandra's added perspective regarding Africana thought was supplementary to the growing tradition of diasporic ideologies that undoubtedly fueled the aesthetic and radical reevaluation of Fela's musical philosophies. Equally essential is addressing the importance of Fela's mother, Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti as the ideological heart of his political and anti-establishment inspiration. In the course of Jean Jaques Flori and Stéphane Tchaladjieff's documentary *Fela Kuti: Music Is The Weapon*, a scene depicts Fela at a local YMCA gathering, passionately exclaiming to his community that only Ghanaian Revolutionary Kwame Nkrumah and "his mother" possessed enough power and charisma to lead followers down the street.⁷ Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti led a life of dedicated activism that few could rival in the role of founder, or vital participant of organizations and civil services that included the Abeokuta Women's Union, Abeokuta Grammar School, Abeokuta Society of Union and Progress, Federation of Nigerian Women's Societies, and the Abeokuta Market Women's Movement.

A content analysis of select lyrical passages will be employed and interwoven throughout the chapter to illustrate the artists' statements of Pan-African aesthetics that communicate processes of colonization, racism, religion, cultural identity, and cultural tradition, while showing Fela's evolution of consciousness as a result of Pan-African political and social movements. Similarly Lemi Ghariokwu's graphic design work gracing the covers of many of Fela's groundbreaking albums will be analyzed, illustrating deeper comprehensive connotations of Pan-African aesthetics employed in visual arts.

Race, identity, and formations of aesthetics

The multiple ideologies regarding Pan-Africanism speaks to the nuanced-complexities of Kuti's art and life-narratives, or more broadly, to the narratives of all Africana descended folk navigating societies administrated by white-hegemonic heteropatriarchal rhetoric and domination. P. Olisanwuche Esedebe's record of foundational tenets of Pan Africanism framing

epistemologies of Africana leaders such as Edward Blyden, Fanie Lou Hamer, Henry Sylvester Williams, Sojourner Truth, W.E.B. DuBois, Stokely Carmichael, Marcus Garvey, Kathleen Cleaver, Kwame Nkrumah, George Padmore, Chioma Opara, Malcolm X, Angela Davis, Clenora Hudson-Weems, and Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti, include Africa, as the homeland of Africans and persons of African origin, solidarity among people of African descent, belief in a distinct African personality, rehabilitation of Africa's past pride in African culture, Africa for Africans in church and state, and the hope for a united and glorious future Africa.⁸ Through music and stage performance Fela's Pan-African aesthetic illustrates the rudimentary foundations of Pan-African philosophy, and the chronicles of Africana people.

Paul Gilroy's critique of Zygmunt Bauman's "counterculture of modernity" is an interpretation of the phrase centered on methods of living that are diverging or altering from prevailing social norms customarily decided upon by hegemonic men of white European descent. Gilroy positions the essentialness of what he calls "Black musical cultures" by declaring, "The vitality and complexity of this musical culture offers a means to get beyond the related oppositions between essentialists and pseudo-pluralists and between totalizing conceptions of tradition, modernity, and post-modernity on the other."⁹ Gilroy is offering Africana musical forms, or Pan-African aesthetics, as nuanced-cultural events working against Eurocentric avowals of modernity, which proposes modernity aligning with European standards of existence regarding values, occupation, community, self-expression, and more importantly race, gender, sexuality, and class.

The commonalities of artists resembling Fela Kuti, Bob Marley, or James Brown's lyrical output can be further delineated theoretically in Paul Gilroy's *Black Atlantic*. Gilroy offers separate definitions for ideas concerning the politics of fulfillment and the politics of transfiguration providing by degrees Pan African strategic resistances that lies within countercultural frameworks. "The politics of fulfillment practiced by the descendants of slaves demands, as Delany did," contends Gilroy, "that bourgeois civil society live up to the promises of its own rhetoric."¹⁰ Fela's shift in consciousness in the United States, initiated by Sandra Izadore's inspiration, offered a declaration demanding the self-determination and liberation of African people. Gilroy extends his theory on fulfillment declaring, "Though by no means literal, it can be grasped through what is said, shouted, screamed, or sung."¹¹ Gilroy's statement is an ideological trajectory through the history of using Pan-African aesthetics as strategies of resistance executed by African descended folk from their origins in Africa, through the Atlantic Slave Trade, to Jim Crow, to the colonization of African countries, through Civil Rights, and contemporary social justice movements.

Fela and Afrika 70's 1974 release "Alagbon Close,"¹² according to album cover designer Lemi Ghariokwu, "was the first song that he (Fela) took direct attack of the government."¹³ The song was written after Fela's imprisonment on suspicion of Indian hemp possession. Lemi Ghariokwu's album cover designs offer an essential component of Pan-African aesthetics by combining the elements of Fela's live shows interspersed with visual representations of political spectacles, in addition to imagistic exemplifications of Pan-African ideologies. Lemi's graphics of "Alagbon Close" was his first illustration exhibiting Alagbon Close, an actual detention center, as a decaying jailhouse in flames, flanked by Fela's house, the Kalakuta Republic, sitting sturdily upon a cliff made of stone that appears over the ocean.¹⁴ A triumphant Fela has broken the chain and dances over a capsized police patrol boat.¹⁵ Ghariokwu's illustration demonstrates both the tenacity required to battle government corruption, and that authoritarians should not underestimate an individual's desire to be liberated.

Fela's lyrics in "Alagbon Close" speak specifically about the repressive "police state" of Nigeria under the rule of Military Head of State General Yakubu Dan-Yumma Gowon.

Fela structures police and military investigations as events of legitimated violence. Fela, via Pan-Africanist-aesthetic expression is in many respects pronouncing Pan-African scholar's hope for solidarity and a glorious African future cannot come into fruition with the cultural schizophrenia executed by law enforcement, but through global Africana solidarity.

Fela Kuti, like West African musicians Francis Bebey, Manu Dibango, and Fela Sowande was formally educated in United Kingdom and France. In 1958 at the age of twenty, Fela was sent to London to study medicine. He instead decided to study music at the Trinity College of Music in London. It was through these diasporic journeys in search of education that Fela and other aspiring African musicians began cultivating further African identities. Fela's instrument of choice at Trinity became the trumpet, although piano was his first instrument. Fela discusses his early musical experiences during a 1965 radio interview mentioning as a child he led the school choir and his parents required him to play the piano.¹⁶ Fela's initial forays into music cultivated his abilities as a multi-instrumentalist performer, and positioned establishments of Pan-African aesthetics, requiring adeptness in leading people, and personal-conceptual artistic and intellectual précises to fruitfulness. Fela's education in London granted exposure to African-American jazz particularly the influence of trumpeters Miles Davis and Louis Prima, and saxophonists Charlie Parker and John Coltrane. Kuti frequented London hot spots the Flamingo, the Marquee, and Ronnie Scott's, sitting in on late-night jam sessions, a formality for any serious up and coming jazz player.¹⁷ Fela began developing the musical "chops" necessary for creating his jazz-Highlife fusion band, Fela Ransome-Kuti and the Koola Lobitos that became the aesthetic flavor of his music upon returning to Nigeria in 1963. In many respects, the cultural transferences intrinsic of African-American jazz and Ghanaian Highlife Fela refined in London, was his first instance of Pan-African aesthetics. Fela was attempting to develop a Pan-African identity via aesthetics, through musical hybridity discovered during his higher education.

Many African musicians were formally educated in western nations. Artists educated in France for instance, were immersed in European cultural order in what can be described as a francophone world.¹⁸ Formal education in a foreign country, particularly westernized countries can instigate crisis of identifying with one's native country, host country, or both. The education of Africans in western countries is a catalyst for diasporic-artistic aesthetics, thus the influence of African music in Europe, the United States, and contrariwise. Cameroonian Saxophonist and Author Manu Dibango, discusses European education and African identity in his biography *Three Kilos of Coffee*. Dibango, who was formally educated in France, speaks of how his father viewed Europe as paradise.¹⁹ Manu Dibango voices his idolization of American and French musicians like Louis Armstrong, Duke Ellington, Claude Luter, and chanteuse Juliette Greco.²⁰ Once in westernized schools, African students often grappled with identification to their African traditions, or the traditions resulting from western education. Fela's Africana/Pan-Africanist identity development, flourished during his educational and musical advance in London, regurgitating and expanding deep-rooted knowledges passed on by his prominent familial structure, principally Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti.

The lyrics of Fela Kuti and Afrika 70's "Colonial Mentality"²¹ touch upon the effects of slavery and colonialism on African culture, suggesting the detrimental mindset of African people causing further issues in post-colonial structures. African people were released from the clutches of colonization, but found difficulties fully disassociating themselves from hundreds of years of domination. The inability to fully detach from the mindset of being dominated by Europeans connects to residual effects of cultural influences and exchanges over the centuries between Great Britain and West Africa, influencing corruption in Nigeria's

post-colonial government. Nigerian and United States's political climates in the 1960s and 1970s share important distinctions inclusive of significant contrasts informing Fela and African American artists and activists' Pan-African consciousness, as products of the African diaspora. The Federation of Nigeria fought for and ultimately gained independence from British hegemony on October 1, 1960. Unfortunately the 1967–1970 Nigerian Civil War, referred to as the Biafran War, derailed Nigeria's post-independence political development.

Kuti's final ensemble Egypt 80 created the song "Perambulator," describing overall past and present political, social, and economic conditions of Nigeria, voicing strong opinions concerning education. Professor and Author Tejumola Olaniyan professes in his book *Arrest the Music!: Fela and His Rebel Art and Politics* that a particular section of the song addresses the goal of Africans to reeducate themselves, stripping away the purposeless education imposed by the colonists, and African student's parents who ascribe to Eurocentric education.²² Fela's lyrics in "Perambulator" connect education and identity. However, the contrast to keep in mind is that musicians such as he developed modern forms of hybrid music resulting from European education. Fela ends "Perambulator" singing lyrics that conjure a strong Pan-African stance striking at British colonial authority with intensity, again stressing the pointlessness of European education as a whole. Fela alludes to premises of cultural transferences that exist in colonial environments by stating that it was Africans who civilized the British. The cover art for "Perambulator," displays Fela in traditional African spirituality and culture. A shirtless Fela plays a percussion instrument seemingly in performance. The album's heading states "The Black President," and "Chief Priest." Fela's picture is bordered by silhouetted images of African Kings and Queens, animals, and artistic vestiges. The cover demonstrates Kuti's multidimensional characters as a spiritual shaman, a trickster, a performer, and a political leader. Africana folk who are proponents of Pan-Africanism must wear various hats taking on multiple roles of leadership and instruction within societies. The album's color scheme is traditional red, black, yellow, and green referencing Pan-African, Rastafarian, and Ethiopian connotations of the blood of African people, the gold and natural resources of the African continent, and green African landscapes. Fela's sound emanates not only from the actual audio, but also from the aesthetics of the album artwork.

Lemi Ghariokwu's work on "Coffin For Head of State"²³ recurrently utilizes the collage-style of artistic expression underscoring an aesthetic of transcultural, transcontinental value. Africana folk are often left to use societies' scraps to create viable creative, political, and familial structures. The cover shows the photo of Fela and various comrades carrying Funmilayo's symbolic coffin to Dodan Barracks. A scrawled caption reads "FELA'S—MOTHERS COFFIN ARRIVING AT DODAN BARRACKS GATE SEPT 30–79," under Fela's name bold in red. It is my opinion that Lemi's use of red represents the anger and rage of the moment, motivated by bloodshed. Fela's name in red, hovering over the black and white photographs and newspaper clippings, may signify the fury over injustice.

Gendering Afro-Beat

Ghanaian Highlife music ensues from African musical tradition, African diasporic seafaring, European colonization of Africa, and transnational dimensions of West African cultural production particularly from the 1940s–1960s. Highlife bands and artists comparatively to E.T. Mensah and the Tempos Band traveled, including traversing Africa, Europe, and Jamaica, offering and absorbing musical knowledges each provided and cognized. Markus Coester's essay entitled, "Localising African Popular Music Transnationally: 'Highlife-Travellers' in

Britain in the 1950s and 1960s,” argues Highlife must be considered a factor of Ghana’s decolonization and emancipation rather than solely deducing it as a factor of transcultural-artistic expression.²⁴ Ghanaian Highlife, Fela’s Afro-Beat, and African American Jazz and Funk/Soul are most advantageous according to Veal as, “The consolidation of these diasporic-African musical worlds functioned as a sonic analogue to the conscious reconstruction and reintegration of Africa as a cultural symbol into the psyche.”²⁵ The amalgamation of these musical forms is similar to the variance of Africana cultures that endured the middle passage during slavery as well as the diaspora. African slaves created hybrid forms of communication, activism, and spirituality as platforms of resistance to racialized domination that were inherited by future generations as tools to challenge and counter colonization and racialized violence and discrimination. In this instance, artist’s implementation of Pan-African aesthetics becomes a performance of Pan-Africanist’s solidarity for people of African descent. Equally Africana musical forms aforementioned operate within audio intersectionality as methods of musically “recycling and rethinking”²⁶ systems of intersectional dominance for the subjugated.

Men are commonly the focus of scholarly works considering the significance of Africana contexts particularly Pan-Africanism, Afro-Beat, or Highlife. In the case of Ghanaian Highlife, it is important to recognize women’s influence in Highlife and Afro-Beat music. Fela’s sound and stage presence would not have possessed the consistent transcendent exhibition without the dancers’ visceral-flawless movement and attention to vocals. Ghanaian women involved with Highlife’s musical output often undertook similar background roles; however, women in Ghanaian society were involved in every facet of Ghanaian societal events.²⁷ Ghanaian women’s social responsibilities were imperative to their country’s ability to operate. Africana descended women used music or Pan-African aesthetics to voice their struggles in conjunction with their political and social perspectives focusing family, Pan-African feminist ideology, and social justice on behalf of all African descended folk. Ghanaian women were involved in every aspect of Highlife’s production including songwriting and group promotion during and after Ghana’s independence in 1959, and into Highlife’s 1960s to early 1970s peak popularity.²⁸ Fela began playing a version of Highlife and African American Jazz while attending Trinity College of Music from 1958–1963 with his band Highlife Rakers, eventually renamed Koola Lobitos. Female Highlife performers were establishing their own aesthetic contributions to the male-centered groups they supported, providing instrumentation, composition, and vocalizations that directly and indirectly influenced Afro-Beat. Awurama Badu is one of several female Highlife artists who began backing male bands, and eventually created hit songs “Komkom” and “Emelia.” Amoah-Ramey states, “Women used music to revolutionize the way Ghanaians think about their musical compositions.”²⁹ Ghanaian female Highlife performers were influential to the artistic palates of West African music that are submerged in creating Pan-African aesthetics.

Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti, formerly Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti was born in Abeokuta in 1900. She married Reverend Israel Oludotun Ransome-Kuti on January 20, 1925. Both were educators at the Abeokuta Grammar School. Funmilayo founded kindergarten classes in Ijebu-Ode, and again upon moving back to Abeokuta. The Ransome-Kuti family’s involvement with education set the tone for the success of their five children, three of which achieving prominent careers in medicine. Funmilayo used foundations as an educator to initiate a career from the 1940s on, as a champion for African women’s rights, anti-colonialism, gender relations, and challenging theories fueling racism.³⁰ Funmilayo’s activism garnered her role as founder of the Abeokuta Women’s Union, in addition to several other social justice organizations, engendering Nigerian women of all walks of life with

a staunch directive for challenging colonialism, and domestic factors perpetuating African women's oppression. Cheryl Johnson-Odim and Nina Emma Mba affirm the mission of the (AWU) as, "Unity, Cooperation, Selfless Service, and Democracy."³¹ The Abeokuta Women's Union motto establishes the foundational ideologies of Pan-African feminism. Funmilayo's activism and politics indoctrinated Fela with Pan-Africanism and anti-establishment identity despite his unawareness of Pan-African ideology, or the necessary mentality to enact a committed anti-authoritarian position.

Funmilayo's (AWU) tenure culminated into a series of revolutionary protest songs later impelling Fela's propensity for confronting corrupt Nigerian government and military with fierce lyrical output. Stephanie Shonekan's research regarding the Abeokuta Women's Union protest songs demonstrates the familiarity between Funmilayo's and Fela's lyrical strategies and ideologies.³² Fela and Afrika 70's song "Coffin For Head of State" was written after his mother's death following a vicious government-led raid on his Kalakuta Republic compound. The militia threw Funmilayo from a second story window resulting in injuries she was unable to recover from. Fela constructed and executed a plan to deliver his mother's "symbolic" coffin to General Obasanjo at Dodan Barracks Gate on September 30, 1979. Fela's "Coffin For Head of State" narrates the symbolic exhibition of Funmilayo's coffin.³³ Fela announced to his followers, "We are going to place it on the steps of the capital, show the world what a real leader looks like."³⁴ Fela's lyrical content in "Coffin" appears to call out the heads of states' hypocritical religious affiliations. The Abeokuta Women's Union often used the subject of religion in their songs. The (AWU), particularly in Song no. 3 and Song no. 135, take a more deferential angle on religion, according to Stephanie Shonekan, Fela and his mother's organization, however, realize the impact of utilizing religion as a platform of activism.³⁵ Funmilayo's devotion to Pan-African feminism and the use of song cultivating Pan-African aesthetic uplifted her people and created a stage for Fela's future.

Fela was born in Abeokuta, Nigeria, October 15, 1938 in a family that championed education and activism. Fela's mother confronted colonialism directly as one of Nigeria's first feminist activists, and a well known-purveyor of anti-colonization. Funmilayo Kuti was likewise involved with women of the Nigerian markets who fought unfair taxation by colonialist administrators capitalizing on Abeokuta women's trade markets. Professor Stephanie Shonekan's examination entitled, "Fela's Foundation: Examining the Revolutionary Songs of Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti and the Abeokuta Market Women's Movement in 1940s Western Nigeria," argues that Funmilayo and the market women's songs of protest was one of the foundations for Fela's future activism within song. It is important to demonstrate Fela's exposure to human rights movements at an early age, although during Fela's earlier music production with Koola Lobitos and Nigeria 70, he admits to very little political participation. Fela declared, "I wasn't politically minded at all ... I was just another musician, playing with Koola Lobitos and singing love songs, songs about rain, about people... What did I know?"³⁶ Fela, through the leadership and influence of Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti, was being groomed as a purveyor of Pan-Africanism and activism.

Fela's Pan-Africanist identity was profoundly realized and grounded by his serendipitous encounters and subsequent relationship with young African-American activist Sandra Izsa-dore. Fela returned to Nigeria from England in 1963. His band at the time Koola Lobitos performed what Fela called Highlife-jazz. "I eventually dropped the name 'Cause my mother had told me: Start playing music your people understand, not jazz," "So those were years of experimentation, man ..."³⁷ Funmilayo and Fela demonstrate essential characteristics of Pan-Africanism and Pan-African aesthetics that preferences open-mindedness and ground-breaking philosophical action.

The musical climate, particularly in Nigeria and Ghana was shifting during the Biafran War, culminating in Fela's exodus to America ultimately meeting Sandra Izadore. I will pose the argument that Sandra Izadore was foundational to the construction of Afro-Beat's Pan African political responsiveness, and African American Funk/Soul-aesthetic infusion. African-American Funk/Soul music made its way to Africa in the mid 1960s. Fela witnessed Sierra Leonean musician Gerald Pino perform his version of James Brown's funk/soul anthems with never before seen equipment and amplification.³⁸ Pino was mimicking aesthetics of African-American Funk/Soul including intense volume, the latest amplifiers and PA equipment, and repetitive mantras and blaring horn sections. "Everybody was playing soul man, trying to copy Pino; I said to myself: This James Brown music ... This is what's gonna happen in Nigeria soon-o."³⁹ James's 1968 call and response anthem, written by bandleader Alfred Ellis charges "Say It Loud: I'm Black and I'm Proud!" Interestingly similar to Fela Kuti, James Brown exhibited little Africana nationalism prior to 1968. James's turning point was his band's collective creation of *Say It Loud*; saying it, is feeling it, and living it. The importance of the song is publicly expressed bitterness towards white-European hegemony, particularly in the United States. In an interview, Fela tells biographer Carlos Moore the aforementioned statement admitting to his lack of political awareness, and proclivity constructing inconsequential, mundane songs. Fela expressed "What did I know? That's when I split to America."⁴⁰

This analysis opened describing the beauty of Fela Kuti's composition "My Lady Frustration" recorded on *The '69 Los Angeles Sessions* delineating his complicated relationship with Sandra Izadore and her family. Sandra Izadore was born Sandra Smith in Los Angeles California. Sandra conjured a passion for social justice and Africana knowledge. She became involved with the Black Panther Self-Defense Party and the Nation of Islam, also spending time in jail for assaulting a police officer during the 1967 Los Angeles riots. Sandra and Fela met at a Koola Lobitos performance in Los Angeles and quickly betrothed each other. Sandra introduced Fela to *The Autobiography of Malcolm X*, whose life and philosophies had a profound effect on him. "The philosophies of black nationalism and Pan-Africanism held particular relevance for the younger generation of jazz musicians," declares Veal, "and through Sandra Smith Fela also became familiar with more recent developments in jazz."⁴¹ In the mid to late 1960s, musicians such as Miles Davis, Sun Ra, John Coltrane, and Thelonious Monk established new directions in jazz based on free-improvisational composition, concepts Fela implemented. Through Sandra's introduction to Africana nationalism and the Pan African aesthetic of free-jazz composition, Fela's band was renamed "Nigeria 70," and his lyrical content became a space to analyze the plights and conditions of Africana folks' lives. Sandra's interview with Carlos Moore states, "There were so many things I shared with Fela: novels, poetry, politics, history, music ... Poems by Nikki Giovanni, The Last Poets ('Niggers Are Afraid of Revolution'), Angela Davis, Martin Luther King, Stokely Carmichael, Jesse Jackson, Nina Simone's 'Four Women', Miles Davis ..." ⁴² Sandra's initial instruction for Fela was explaining the importance of using music for education, epistemology, and activism.⁴³ Fela's Ambrose Campbell-inspired song "My Lady Frustration," would be his first composition of Pan-African motivation and aesthetic. During Moore's interviews Fela admitted, "I said to Sandra: Do you know what? I haven't been playing AFRICAN music. So now I want to write African ... for the first time."⁴⁴ Fela and the Nigeria 70 returned to Nigeria with Sandra in 1970 where over the next decade his band would shift from Nigeria 70, to Afrika 70, to Egypt 80 creating dozens of compositions operating within the frameworks of Pan-Africanism, Pan-African aesthetics, and audio intersectionality.

Audio intersectionality and the complexities of Africanisms

Fela's life experiences and artistic productions mimic the complexities of Pan Africanism and Pan African aesthetics while informing the parameters of audio intersectionality. The application of audio intersectionality and its associated subfields, "audio racialization," "audio confrontation," "trans-audio," and "audio assignment (ing)," as theoretical, sound-transmission, and performance-based principles critiquing racialized, gendered, and sexualized normativity, is founded on "queer of color analysis" used as an analytic of interrogation into normativity and heteronormativity. Roderick Ferguson addresses queer of color critique as an intervention into state-sanctioned normativity regarding the intersections of race, gender, sexuality, and class including the presumption that "liberal ideology occludes the intersecting saliency"⁴⁵ of these contexts. The intricacies involved in scholarly development of Pan African philosophies illuminates congruencies in developing Pan African aesthetics like Afro-Beat. Fela's excessively complex lifestyle that included twenty-seven wives can be voiced within the frameworks of his music and addressed within the parameters of audio intersectionality.

Fela's Afro-Beat aesthetic communicates principally with audio racialization and audio confrontation. Audio racialization comprises two variant applications. First, it functions as the aural experience of being racialized in a white heteropatriarchal society that uses racist language and racist epithets to dehumanize and disempower the disempowered. Dominant societal configurations, or societal factions guided by hegemonic ideology, employ media⁴⁶ to disseminate racializing rhetoric as an apparatus of fear and control. Fela Kuti, in contrast, applies audio racialization as a tactical instrument of confrontation and opposition to racializing mechanisms. Fela's music is constructed to celebrate and empower Africana culture, Africana ethnicities, and disenfranchised races. Audio racialization now functions as a "disidentification" of racialized antagonism; according to José Esteban Muñoz "[s]urvival strategies the minority subject practices in order to negotiate a phobic majoritarian public sphere that continuously elides or punishes the existence of subjects who do not conform to the phantasm of normative citizenship."⁴⁷ Importantly, Fela's music also emits love and compassion that are direct interrogations of racialized negativity. Afrika 70 and Egypt 80s live performances become audio confrontations, or performance-based oppositions to racialized dominance. I employ audio confrontations to Fela's performances illuminating music, dance, and lyrical output as performances of activism directly challenging ideological and repressive state apparatuses that control social stratifications of race, gender, sexuality, and class.

Trans-audio and audio assigning (ment) are employed to address Fela's music regarding sexuality and gender respectively. Trans-audio symbolizes the complex idea of sound utilized as a method of disidentification in queer of color analysis, or the "queering" of musical interpretation that traverses across or beyond considered normativity of musical composition that is intrinsic of many Africana aesthetics particularly African American Jazz, Ghanaian Highlife, Hip Hop, and Afro-Beat. According to José Esteban Muñoz, "[h]ybridity is meant to have an indexical use in that it captures, collects, and brings into play various theories of fragmentation in relation to minority identity practices."⁴⁸ Aforementioned Africana musical styles are hybrids, leftover particles of the diaspora, reconstructed into artistic forms that communicate innovative politics of identity, sexuality, and gender. Fela's stage performances often combine "performances of excess," highly sexualized transmissions of hybrid sound, movement, and corporeal engagement. Audio assignment conceptualizes the submission of sound and music to contexts of gendering. Fela's dancers are using their gender, and corporeal movement and consciousness as a way to be centered in a male-dominated band. In this instance audio does

not merely refer to analog signals, but to the spiritual sounds of one's physical self that can activate bodily movement performed as dance illustrating a narrative, or shielding an individual from destructive-heteropatriarchal dynamisms. Fela's band engaging in Afro-Beat music with female dancers creates an alternative community that is positioned as transmitters of intersectional contexts shaping and emitting identities simultaneously.

Fela's sexuality can be perceived as provocative, multifaceted, and challenging, mirroring qualities of his performances or Lemi Ghariokwu's accompanying album designs. Audio confrontation frames Fela's sexuality as performances of excess and hypermasculinity, as a strategy of empowerment while simultaneously experiencing disempowerment. Fela expressed, "African system says, women have their duties, men have their duties ... Women must know their place in society, as soon as you're at your family's house, whether you are the president of the country or not, the husband can kick your ass."⁴⁹ This attitude towards women emulates the historic violence directed at men and women of Africana descent by white-hegemonic power structures. Fela was a powerful musician, orator, and performer whose greatest mentors were women. However, Fela was not a man in power; he exhibited great effort to embody power. Fela's sexuality and promiscuity can be observed as performances of hypermasculine overindulgence, or exaggerated versions of masculinity utilized as audio confrontations and trans-audio mechanisms of survival. Fela's final years before his death of apparent AIDS-related complications was marked by production of the song "C.S.A.S (Condom Scallywag and Scatter), denouncing safe-sex and pronouncing AIDS as a "whiteman's" disease, with frequent bouts of incarceration."⁵⁰ Female dancers, and Pan African feminisms instructed by Funmilayo Anikulapo-Kuti and Sandra Izsadore, enlightened Fela Kuti's music and stage performance. Kuti's sexuality is framed by audio confrontations of hypermasculine performance employing women as his shielding against his own societal subjugation.

Closing encore

The opening cinematic sequence in *Finding Fela* begins with the master of ceremonies introducing Fela as an African musician "fighting for justice, suffering, and progress for his people."⁵¹ Fela takes the stage adorned in a brightly patterned jumpsuit that at once exemplifies the colorfulness of the African continent, but also exudes the style of many African American performers during the nineteen seventies, such as Labelle, Funkadelic, Ohio Players, or Sly and the Family Stone. His band uniformly wears all yellow jumpsuits in a fashion reminiscent of established-militant organizations of the Black Power Movement. Fela steps to the microphone in front of an audience that appears to be predominantly people of white-European descent. Before any music is presented, Fela expresses he wants to be represented as an African, particularly to his audience who has no real knowledge of Africa.⁵² Afrika 70 has yet to play one note, nevertheless, Pan-African aesthetics of the global Pan-African movement have been compellingly displayed. Fela and Afrika 70 demonstrate Edward W. Blyden's coined "African Personality," as well as Pan Africanist pride in African culture. Fela's musical compositions dedicated to the construction of intricate-rhythmic compositions centered upon repetition, leitmotif, and call and response, are at its essence founded on traditional African aesthetics. Ethnomusicologist Kofi Agawu asserts, "Fela Anikulakpo Kuti's masterpiece, *Zombie*, for a similarly unpressured creation of musical time by means of harmonic trajectories that spiral and embody sameness even as they support the nonsameness of melodic narrative and (eventually) Fela's biting verbal critique."⁵³ These and other descriptions of Fela's work elucidate the narratives of working-class Africana descended

people globally. Whether it is working-class Africans or African Americans, the recurrence of daily tasks for survival are interspersed with moments of change that include love and happiness, or hatred and contention, while often being placed in the position of teaching and informing.

Fela and Afrika 70 perform “Opposite People” at his famed performance space Afrika Shrine in the working-class area of Lagos, exuding unity, and utilizing an African space for African people. Afrika Shrine was a space purely devoted to performing Pan-African aesthetics, and disseminating Pan-African theory. The Afrika Shrine was not only a nightclub, but also a center of learning and knowledge with a wide variety of books, articles, and pamphlets from leading scholars of Africana history and philosophy. Fela’s female dancers, dressed in astonishing African apparel and face paint that is often beyond words or description, evoke a spiritual energy as Afrika 70 reverberates rhythm and melody. The dancers provide visual stimuli, additional repetition, and backing vocals, delivering the vital call and response mechanism to Fela’s key phrases and choruses. The dancers involvement with Fela’s vocalizations creates resonating chants that bring the entire ensemble together. I concur with Kofi Agawu that the ensemble is a reflection of African communal life.⁵⁴ Kuti’s concerts are performances of African community played-out on global stages. Africana folk, for centuries, have created ensembles and variants of community in order to transmit Pan-Africanism, Civil Rights, and Black Power. Michael E. Veal explains, “On stage, Fela combines the demanding-band leading style and dancing agility of James Brown, the mystical inclinations of Sun Ra, the polemics of Malcolm X, and the harsh, insightful satire of Richard Pryor.”⁵⁵ Veal’s characterization of Fela involving multiple intensities from various iconic figures communicates the diasporic transferences of cultures and concepts structuring Pan-Africanism and Pan-African aesthetic. Adding to Veal’s analysis, Afrika 70’s performances demonstrate the mutually inclusive contexts of race, gender, and sexuality informing audio intersectionality.

The design on Fela and Afrika 70’s 1977 release “Opposite People”⁵⁶ is a subdued Ghar-iokwu creation that depicts a cunning ambiguity. The song lyrics explain how corrupt people; particularly political figures will eventually show their true character. They will show themselves as opposites of people adhering to true social justice, soulful character, and conscientious dispersion of joy, love, and respect. The cover illustrates Fela’s joyous face holding a microphone, skirted with images of Fela playing his saxophone transporting love and music to a hypothetical audience. Ghariokwu demonstrates Fela as the opposite, of “Opposite People.”

Notes

- 1 Tejumola Olaniyan, “The Cosmopolitan Nativist: Fela Anikulapo-Kuti and the Antinomies of Postcolonial Modernity,” *Research in African Literatures*, Vol. 32, No. 2. (Summer, 2001), p. 82.
- 2 Tejumola Olaniyan, “The Cosmopolitan Nativist: Fela Anikulapo-Kuti and the Antinomies of Postcolonial Modernity,” *Research in African Literatures*, Vol. 32, No. 2. (Summer, 2001), p. 82.
- 3 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 4 Nana Amoah-Ramey, *Female Highlife Performers in Ghana: Expression, Resistance, and Advocacy*, (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2018), 29.
- 5 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 126.
- 6 Carlos Moore, *Fela: This Bitch Of A Life*, (New York, NY: Omnibus Press, 2010), 85.
- 7 *Fela Kuti: Music Is The Weapon*, directed by Jean Jaques Flori and Stéphane Tchalgadjieff (Vincent Courtois and Léo Courtois, 1982), accessed February 27, 2019 www.amazon.com.

- 8 P. Olisanwuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991*, (Washington D.C: Howard University Press, 1994), 4.
- 9 Paul Gilroy, *The Black Atlantic: Modernity and Double Consciousness*, (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1993), 36.
- 10 Ibid., 37.
- 11 Ibid.
- 12 This album is a piece of my personal record collection.
- 13 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 14 Teo Kermeliotis, “Lemi Ghariokwu: How I Designed Fela Kuti’s Iconic Album Covers,” *CNN Style: Inside Africa*, (August 2, 2017), accessed 1/7/19, <https://edition.cnn.com/style/article/lemi-ghariokwu-fela-kuti/index.html>.
- 15 Ibid.
- 16 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 17 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 43.
- 18 James A. Winders, “Mobility and Cultural Identity: African Music and Musicians in Late-Twentieth-Century Paris,” *French Historical Studies*, Vol. 29, No. 3 (Summer, 2006), 490–91.
- 19 Manu Dibango, *Three Kilos of Coffee*, (Chicago, IL: The University of Chicago Press, 1994), p. 8.
- 20 Ibid., 16–17.
- 21 Fela Anikulapo-Kuti and Africa 70, *Colonial Mentality, Sorrow, Tears, and Blood*, 1977 by Barclay Records, LP. www.google.com/search?q=colonial+mentality+lyrics&oeq=colonial+mentality+lyrics&q=chrome.69i57j69i60l3.12984j0j7&sourceid=chrome&ie=UTF-8.
- 22 Tejumola Olaniyan, *Arrest the Music!: Fela and His Rebel Art and Politics*, (Bloomington: University of Indiana Press, 2004), 106.
- 23 This album is a piece of my personal record collection.
- 24 John Collins, “A Social History of Ghanaian Popular Entertainment Since Independence.” *Transactions of the Historical Society of Ghana*, New Series, no. 9 (2005): 2.
- 25 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 58.
- 26 Jose Esteban Munoz, *Disidentification: Queens of Color and the Performance of Politics*, (Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press, 1999), 39.
- 27 Nana Amoah-Ramey, *Female Highlife Performers in Ghana: Expression, Resistance, and Advocacy*, (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2018), 25.
- 28 Ibid.
- 29 Ibid., 30.
- 30 Cheryl Johnson-Odim and Nina Emma Mba, *For Women and the Nation: Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti of Nigeria*, (Urbana and Chicago, IL: University of Illinois Press, 1997), 38.
- 31 Ibid., 73.
- 32 Stephanie Shonekan, “Fela’s Foundation: Examining the Revolutionary Songs of Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti and the Abeokuta Market Women’s Movement in 1940s Western Nigeria,” *Black Music Research Journal*, Vol. 29, No. 1. (Spring, 2009), 129.
- 33 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 34 Ibid.
- 35 Stephanie Shonekan, “Fela’s Foundation: Examining the Revolutionary Songs of Funmilayo Ransome-Kuti and the Abeokuta Market Women’s Movement in 1940s Western Nigeria,” *Black Music Research Journal*, Vol. 29, No. 1. (Spring, 2009), 136.
- 36 Carlos Moore, *Fela: This Bitch Of A Life*, (New York, NY: Omnibus Press, 2010), 77.
- 37 Carlos Moore, *Fela: This Bitch Of A Life*, (New York, NY: Omnibus Press, 2010), 73.
- 38 Ibid., 74.
- 39 Ibid., 75.
- 40 Ibid., 77.
- 41 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 70.
- 42 Carlos Moore, *Fela: This Bitch Of A Life*, (New York, NY: Omnibus Press, 2010), 95–96.

- 43 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 44 Carlos Moore, *Fela: This Bitch Of A Life*, (New York, NY: Omnibus Press, 2010), 85.
- 45 Roderick A. Ferguson, *Aberrations in Black: Toward a Queer of Color Critique*, (Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press, 2004), 4.
- 46 The term “media” is used to illustrate the ways in which medial platforms such as news, literature, music, and social media platforms are direct tools in nation-state racialization, sexualization, gendering, and classing.
- 47 Jose Esteban Munoz, *Disidentification: Queers of Color and the Performance of Politics*, (Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press, 1999), 4.
- 48 *Ibid.*, 31.
- 49 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com
- 50 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 236.
- 51 *Finding Fela*, directed by Philip Alexander Gibney (Jigsaw Productions/Okay Africa, 2014), accessed February 18, 2019, www.hulu.com.
- 52 *Ibid.*
- 53 Kofi Agawu, *The African Imagination in Music*, (New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2016), 13.
- 54 *Ibid.*, 10.
- 55 Michael E. Veal, *Fela: The Life & Times of an African Musical Icon*, (Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press, 2000), 4.
- 56 This album is a piece of my personal record collection.

Hip Hop and Pan-Africanism

Harry Nii Koney Odamtten

Intro

Pan-Africanism is the idea that people of African descent worldwide share historical, cultural, sociological, and ancestral heritage to the continent of Africa. This universal kinship to the African continent reflects in their mutual conditions of socio-economic inequity based on a contrived international racial hierarchy, colonialism, neocolonialism—and their hegemonic reiterations in other institutionalized systems of oppression. As a result of this shared collective origin to the African continent and worldwide systems of socio-economic injustice, people of African descent feel a need to pool together to overcome their shared oppression.¹

This form of thinking concerning the conditions of Black people globally has manifested in a variety of ways including *Intellectual or Philosophical Pan-Africanism*, *Literary Pan-Africanism*, *Political Pan-Africanism*, *Cultural and Religious Pan-Africanism*. Cultural Pan-Africanists emphasize and celebrate Black cultural arts as authentic human expressions. These include cultural expressions in cuisine, fine arts, film, music, and literature. It is such cultural sensibilities and social activism that birthed the New Negro Movement in Washington D.C., the Pan-African Festival (Panafest) in Accra, Ghana, and the Pan-African Film and Television Festival (FESPACO), in Ouagadougou, Burkina Faso as well as the Pan-African Film and Arts Festival (PAFF) in Los Angeles, U.S. PAFF, for example, defines its mission as:

... the promotion of cultural understanding among peoples of African descent PAFF is dedicated to *racial tolerance* through the exhibition of film, art and creative expression. It is PAFF's goal to present and showcase the broad spectrum of *Black creative works*; particularly those that *reinforce positive images* and help destroy negative stereotypes. We believe film and art can lead to better understanding and foster communication between peoples of diverse cultures, races, and lifestyles, while at the same time serve as a vehicle to initiate dialogue on the important issues of our times.² [Italics Mine].

In this statement, Pan-African emphasis on a cultural understanding among peoples of African descent is apparent while at the same time lending credence to the Black creative spectrum and social activism through engagement with several others as a means of promoting Black excellence.

Hip Hop is a cultural movement that first gained world prominence beginning in the late 1970s and early 1980s. It was a socio-cultural movement among African-American and Caribbean peoples (mainly Jamaican and Puerto-Rican youth) in New York, who gave dance, artistic, fashion, musical, and other aesthetic expressions to their personal and collective experiences as marginalized peoples in the inner cities of the United States. Different forms of the spoken word characterized Hip Hop, scratching, break dancing, graffiti, freestyling, rhyme and rhythm as well as musical hybridity. Hip Hop music as an art form can be defined as a genre of music with roots in Africa. Nonetheless, it is pioneered by African-American and Afro-Caribbean artistes and includes stylized rhythmic music, Scratching and DJing (Disc Jockeying) Emceeing (Master of Ceremonies), rapping and other verbal arts as seen in the practice of some of its pioneers, which include DJ Kool Herc, Grandmaster Flash, The Sugarhill Gang, Afrika Bambaataa and others too numerous to enumerate here.³ Thus, in furtherance of political aims and social activism, Hip-Hop as art and music is also a counter-cultural tool used by marginalized groups to overturn the stark realities of Black life worldwide.

It is therefore not happenstance that Hip-Hop as a cultural expression—and rap as a musical genre that emerged from the wellspring of Black existential realities draws specifically on a Pan-African ethos to affirm Black cultural philosophies, social organizing, and pragmatic leadership, leading to a dynamic relationship between Hip-Hop and Pan-Africanism. This interdependent relationship, I argue here, is mediated by a set of interrelated factors: global Black circuits, glocalization, intentionality, and the notion of Africa as a primordial center or the ancient center of dispersal for people of African descent (Back to Africa/Africa Returns).

Bridge

By global Black circuits, I mean spaces, cities, locales, towns, halls, or collectives where Black folk of diverse continental, cultural, ethnic, social, or religious backgrounds have usually congregated to pursue Pan-African goals, discourse on local and international Black issues, and to formulate policies or philosophies for engaging with such existing global Black problems. Two examples of such Transnational Black public culture should suffice here. David Walker's classic Pan-African text, *Appeal to the Colored Citizens of the World*, which argued for an immediate and violent end to slavery was written and developed in his discourse with the Black Bostonian community, which organized African lodges, Black Freemasons, and churches. The community's discourse and organizing concerning slavery also produced the Abolitionist career of Black Womanist precursor, Maria Stewart. To demonstrate the international and Pan-African dimensions of the city of Boston as a discursive space for Black organizing and Pan-African activity it is essential to state here that it was Walker, an interlocutor of Maria Stewart, who delivered the toast and introduction of Abdul Ibrahim Rahman Sori when he arrived in Boston. Sori was in Boston to give a speech and to raise funds for the purchase of the freedom of his children who had been born into slavery at a dinner organized by Black Bostonians. Rahman Sori was a prince of the Senegambian kingdom of Futa Jallon, who had been kidnapped and sold into slavery in Natchez, Mississippi. He had been free from his owner as a result of his agency, the benevolence of friends, and the intervention of the sitting President of the United States, John Quincy Adams. Sori was seeking to return to his home in West Africa, with all his children still enslaved on the plantation of his former owner.⁴ The intersection of the lives of Sori, a formerly enslaved Muslim West African, Stewart, a free Black woman intellectual, and

Walker, an abolitionist, and Pan-Africanist illustrates the city of Boston as an international Black public sphere or global black circuit.⁵

Africa Returns, the notion, and practice of returning to Africa, physically, spiritually, or periodically is an enduring Pan-African practice that harkens back to the period of trans-Atlantic Slave Trade and plantation slavery in the Americas.⁶ The government of the African nation of Ghana declared 2019, the Year of Return. The declaration was in remembrance of the 400 years since the arrival of Africans in the Americas as enslaved peoples. The Year of Return also has the Pan-African theme of “Re-Uniting the African Family: Reaching Across Continents Into the Future.” Before its official commemoration in Ghana, however, Diasporic Africans have already been returning to Ghana. One of such people is U.S. African-American rapper, Diggy Simmons, who returned to Africa alongside diasporic Africans of Ghanaian heritage, actors, Boris Kodjoe and Nicole Parker, as well as international executive, Bozoma St. John, alongside other U.S. African-Americans. Diggy recently shared his feelings on returning to Africa. Clad in a Kente cloth, Diggy wrote on his Instagram page:

Perhaps I’m ignorant. Perhaps I have been for some time now. Many of *my perceptions, or misperceptions rather, were overdue to be rightfully shattered*. It’s a shame—as one with many friends from *Cameroon, Nigeria, and other countries throughout the continent of Africa*—that I have remained so unaware. These friends raved about their *homelands*, and somehow their praise fell upon deaf ears, in part due to [the fact that] as a child, Africa, to me, seemed branded as less than alluring. *The media and my societal narrative has often viewed Africa with a lens of violence, poverty, and underdevelopment. This portrayal has caused generations of Africans to abandon their own heritage and traditions.* During my trip to Ghana, I can’t say I’ve ever felt more comfortable in a space. I don’t think I stopped my Shaku Shaku from the time I got off the plane. *Every stereotype that’s been perpetuated never pointed to me feeling this free. I was also fortunate enough to visit the slave dungeons in Cape Coast—small quarters where over a hundred of my potential ancestors were held captive on any given day with no nourishment, suffering in their own faeces and urine. As heartbreaking as it was to stand on those grounds, my takeaway—apart from feeling both inspired and devastated—was a galvanized sense of pride.* I felt as if I gained a more authentic and emboldened sense of self, furthering my own understanding of endurance through my ancestors’ plight.

Here, Diggy’s sense of the history of Africa, slavery, his sense of self, fashion, pride in his African heritage and the erosion of his sense of shame about Africa epitomizes the Pan-African goals of the Year of Return. It also demonstrates the fulfillment of Pan-African ideals evidenced in the mission of PAFF and definitions of Pan-Africanism offered in this chapter. Nonetheless, Diggy is not the first Hip-Hop artist or Diasporic African to have returned to Africa. Stevie Wonder, Isaac Hayes, and Hip Hop group Public Enemy have been coming for years. Others like Muhammad Ali, Maya Angelou, Martin Luther King Jr., Malcolm X, have all at one time returned to visit and stay in Ghana and other parts of Africa for extended periods. Distinguished U.S. African American intellectual, W. E. B. DuBois, and Jamaican Reggae icon, Rita Marley, are some of the most prominent returnees. DuBois lays in Ghana, and his gravesite, which is his former residence is a national shrine (W.E.B. DuBois Center for Pan-African Culture), while Rita Marley has lived quietly in Ghana for the past two decades. An African return narrative like Diggy’s is also evident in Hip-Hop forerunner, *Afrika Bambaataa*’s name. Bambaataa (Lance Taylor), sometimes referenced as the godfather of Hip-Hop, replaced the name of his street gang—

the Black Spades—with a Pan-African moniker: Universal Zulu Nation, after a return to the African continent. Much like Diggy Simmons, Bambaataa, a descendant of Jamaican and Barbadian immigrants in the South Bronx, claims a transformation in his worldview following a 1975 return to Africa at the behest of the international organization, UNICEF. According to Bambaataa his visits to Ivory Coast, Nigeria, and Guinea Bissau:

... was a big inspiration, seeing black people controlling their own destiny, seeing them get up and go to their own work. Seeing their own farmers and agricultures, it was very interesting, when you were seeing all the negativity that you were seeing as a young cat in America, and all the stuff just coming out of the '60s with the civil rights and human rights, so it was very inspirational seeing this.⁷

What is most significant from the preceding is that from its very beginnings, Hip-Hop was shaped by the Back to Africa narrative. A centering of Africa or mythologizing Africa as the centripetal force for a Black agency and continues to influence successive generations of Hip Hoppers including Diggy Simmons, who is also the son of Rev. Run, one half of the thriving Hip Hop group RUN DMC.

Glocalization, on the other hand, is the dual process by which a receiving culture indigenizes universal or external cultural influences. As Msia Kibona Clark's detailed and enterprising work on African Hip-Hop demonstrates, African Hip-Hop practitioners are influenced by global Hip-Hop trends but have also advanced the genre in their unique way using homegrown ideas that reflect the lived realities of diverse communities in Africa.⁸ Thus, while African Hip Hop acts are influenced by global Hip-Hop trends, they indigenize such global impacts to the extent that global Hip-Hop is in turn influenced by indigenized African Hip-Hop practices, innovations, and culture. This process of glocalization in Hip Hop is evident in collaborations between global Hip-Hop performers and African Hip-Hop musicians, as well as sampling of African Hip-Hop music by the global Hip-Hop artistes.

This is, however, neither a novel practice, nor is it limited to Hip-Hop music. In discussing historical context and exchanges, social processes, and actual physical mobility between Black populations, Ruth Simms Hamilton introduced the term "circulatoriness." Circulatoriness is emblematic of the "ongoing continuous geo-social mobility and displacement of people of African descent." Hamilton avers that within this "proliferation of passages" is social identity formation, as well as the exchange, and flow of Black music within global Africa. That is, the circulations of musical genres like Reggae, Zouk, Highlife, Soul, and Jazz within Africa, the Caribbean and the United States.⁹ All of these flows are a reflection of the continued dynamic Pan-African exchange that exists between Africa and its Diaspora.

Finally, much like David Walker's explicit call for the end to slavery, Hip-Hop songs and albums, from Public Enemy's "Black CNN" and "Fight the Power," Queen Latifah's "U.N. I.T.Y.," X-Clan's "Raise the Flag," NAS' "I Can," to Kendrick Lamar's "Pimp, a Butterfly," Hip-Hop musicians reflect an intentionality. That is, a self-conscious effort to portray or seek to infuse public culture in general and Black cultural publics and discourse with Pan-African themed lyrics of African returns, fighting oppression, seeking Black unity, Black self-worth, and Black excellence worldwide.

With this as background, it is not surprising that an International Hip Hop Pan African Diaspora Family ReUnion- Summit (IHHADFR) is part of the program for the 2019 edition of PANAFEST, with its central theme, "Reuniting the African Family" and a sub-theme, "Pan-Africanism, and the African Continent."¹⁰ This demonstrates how Hip Hop has become integral to various Pan-African projects globally. PANAFEST itself emerged as

a Pan-African cultural festival in the late 1980s under the guidance of Efua Sutherland, herself a Pan-Africanist with connections to a wide range of Pan-African figures including Maya Angelou and her Sutherland's African American husband, Bill Sutherland. The festival took global prominence in the early 1990s as it became a homecoming event for Diasporic Africans. The festival usually addresses issues of slavery, emancipation, trauma, healing, and self-determination as well as Black tourism.¹¹ Since then it has attracted artists from all over the Black world. These artists include Dionne Warwick, Jermaine Jackson, Hugh Masakela, as well as Hip Hop acts like Public Enemy, and the London group, PLZ (Parables Linguistics, and Zlang).

Track 1: New York

New York, with its high rise buildings, bright lights, and intoxicating culture is often rightly portrayed as a center of international activity in music, commerce, literature, art, and theater. At least, that is the feeling one gets listening to the first few verses on Jay-Z and Alicia Keys' "Empire State of Mind" with shout outs to some of New York's legends in film and music, like De Niro and the Simmons. Jay Z then raps about being the new Sinatra, and that if he made it in New York, he could make it anywhere. He also sends greetings to Harlem's Dominicans and ends up contrasting New York's streets from Texas, the home state of his wife, Beyoncé Knowles.

However, critically listening to the third verse on this track, as well as Jay-Z and Camron's lyrics on the track, "I am from New York," then Nas' "Empire State of Mind," a different sense of life in New York, particularly the peculiarities of Black life in New York becomes apparent. These Hip Hop artistes through their descriptive lyrics help us to reframe New York as a historic Black public sphere founded on the backs of enslaved and free Africans. New York was a site for the circulation of Black literature and cultures like the New Negro Movement and the Harlem Renaissance, historic Black Parades and Marches by DuBois' NAACP and Marcus Garvey's UNIA. It was also the site of Slave Rebellions, a haven of freedom for escaped slaves, and a popular destination for Southern Blacks during the Great Migration, as well as for Black Caribbean migrants. More importantly, New York City is a sphere of Pan-African mobilization and activity.

Beginning with European settlement of New York as a mid-Atlantic colony in the early seventeenth century, Dutch settlers imported Africans with diverse cultural backgrounds to the then New Netherland, which includes portions of present-day New York, with New Amsterdam (Manhattan) as its Capital. In this period, enslaved Africans arrived mostly from the Caribbean and South America and a significant minority directly from West Central Africa. When the Dutch ceded New York to the English, they also imported African souls from the Caribbean and Africa as the system of slavery in the colony became increasingly oppressive. These Africans became domestics, maritime, and artisanal workers who helped build the colony's roads, docks, and ports. By the eighteenth century, increasing numbers of enslaved Africans were coming directly from Africa as opposed to transhipped Africans from the Caribbean in the previous century. The New York Slave Plot of 1741 believed to have been fomented by "Spanish" Blacks, and Cuffe, an enslaved person of Akan, Gold Coast heritage led to more diminution in freedom for Blacks in the city.¹²

By the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, New York slowly emerged as a space of Black affluence and socio-political activities. It had groups like the New York African Society for Mutual Relief, the New York Manumission Society, which established the New York African Free School in 1787. New York's Lower Manhattan during this time comprising "all colors, white, yellow, brown, and ebony black," but also a thriving Black

community like Seneca in Upper Manhattan. Seneca Village having gardens with “cabbage, and melon patches, with hills of corn and cucumbers, and beds of beets, parsnips.”¹³ By the first decade of the twentieth century, there were about 5,000 foreign-born Blacks in New York City, and 12,000 by 1910. The NAACP organized the Silent March there, after the Race Riots in St. Louis. The Victory Parade also happened there after WW1. New York also became the destination for Black Southerners migrating during the Great Depression.¹⁴

These migrants adding on to the historically Black communities made New York City a historical global Black circuit. It is, therefore, no coincidence that New York City by the last quarter of the twentieth century, with its boroughs, districts, and satellite communities became the site for the emergence of a musical genre with an underlining Pan-African ethos as well as Pan-African participants that includes Black Puerto Ricans, Black Dominicans, African-Americans, and other Caribbean Blacks.

Track 2: Pan-African exchanges

Eduardo Paulino, writes emphatically that working-class Black and Mullatta Dominicans became more racially aware and “learned that they were black and belonged to a larger African diaspora.” He notes that it was, in fact, these New York-based migrants, through their interactions with U.S. African Americans, and Puerto Ricans, who returned home to make the “coifs, music, spirituality, and clothing associated with the US Black Power movement” visible in the Dominican Republic. Specifically, “Santo Domingo’s La Calle El Conde as they were on the Grand Concourse and 149th Street in the Bronx.” In other words, New York as a global Black circuit was influential in the rise and making of Black identity in another Black sphere of the African Diaspora.¹⁵

Hip-Hop’s pioneers reflect this Black cultural mélange. The U.S. born, Afrika Bambaata speaks of his Jamaican and Barbadian heritage, while DJ Kool Herc (Jamaican born), Grandmaster Flash (Barbadian born), DJ Red Alert (Antigua born) all brought an eclectic influence on the music scene in New York. It was the evolution of this cultural movement that Ghana’s Reggie Rockstone came to be influenced by as the son of an African fashion legend, Ricci St. Ossei, raised by both an Asante mother and an African American step-mother. Reggie was born in London but raised tri-continently between New York, Crenshaw, London, Kumasi, and Accra.¹⁶

It is the year 2010, the venue is Accra, the capital city of Ghana, and the occasion is Ghana’s emcees featured on a cypher broadcast on the Black Entertainment and Television network in the US. There are seven Ghanaian rappers: D Black, Kwaku-T, Sarkodie, Tinny, Edem, Baby G, and the Godfather of Ghanaian Hiplife, Reggie Rockstone. Rapping variedly in English, West African English, Akan-Twi, Gá, and Ewé; all six preceding rappers demonstrate their expressive versatility in the languages they choose to rap in. Reggie Rockstone dressed up in boubou steps in to close the cypher. Some of the lyrics from Rockstone’s cypher depict him as an itinerant on the global Black circuit in London and New York; Who asking/seen it all, done it all/from Brooklyn to Brixton [England]. He follows up these lyrics by pivoting to become a cultural translator now, owing to his tri-continental experiences in Ghana, UK, and the US. Rockstone, the transcultural savant raps, Y’all say snitching/In Ghana we say chooking. He then cements his place in Ghanaian Hip Hop lore as the originator of Ghanaian Hip-Life; Hip-Life be my woman, and I love what she cooking/And I love all my children/Living legend. Following this, he uses wordplay on LL Cool J’s name and Hip-Hop cultural registers to rap about Jay-Z’s return to Ghana for

a concert. He raps, you could call me LL, it's cool J[ay] Z passed through for a second/That was so swirl.¹⁷ In doing this Rockstone comes full circle, rapping about both the continued Pan-African exchanges between African and American rappers—the glocalization process.

PANAFEST was, in fact, the site for the glocalization and global emergence of Hip-Life, Ghana's unique Hip-Hop genre. It was a moment of improvisation in PLZ's performance that Ghana's Hip-Life and its Godfather, Reggie Rockstone began to gain global renown. The duo, Rockstone and Funkstone, began rapping in local languages when the DJ set broke. The response of the crowd will lead them to begin experimenting with rapping in local languages in clubs and shows. First, a note about the Pan-African composition of PLZ is appropriate here to be followed by a discussion of London and Accra as Pan-African city circuits that enabled Hip-Hop culture. PLZ comprised the groups Disc Jockey, mentor, and producer for the group, DJ Pogo (Montout), who is of Afro-Jamaican heritage but born and raised in East London. One of the emcees of the group was Fredi Funkstone (Fredi Fyle), raised in Accra, and London by Sierra Leonean parents. The other emcee was London born Reggie Rockstone (Reginald Ossei), whose parents are Ghanaian. While born in England, Rockstone was raised in Accra and Kumasi, Ghana as well as London, and Brooklyn, New York. The less written about muse and hype man of the PLZ crew is Jay (Junior Anno-Bempong) also Ghanaian.¹⁸

Track 3: the PLZ background: London as a global black and Pan-African circuit

Rockstone was born in the United Kingdom in 1964, when his mother, Aunty Hannah, a Nurse, and his father, Ricci St. Ossei, a world-renowned fashion designer, both lived in London. He returned to Ghana with his mother in the early 1970s and attended school in Kumasi, Ghana. He went on to attend the famous Achimota Secondary School in Accra and was well known as a martial artist and break-dancer until he returned to London to attend Drama School.¹⁹ In the 1980's Rockstone settled in London, while traveling to New York to buy Hip-Hop clothes from another Ghanaian born Hip-Hop fashion icon, Dapper-Dan, and selling them in London.²⁰

London had long become a global Black circuit going back to the days of Olaudah Equiano (c. 1745–1797), Ottobah Cuguano (c.1757–unknown) in the late eighteenth century who lived at the same time of the repatriation of the so-called Black Poor of London to Freetown Sierra Leone. Both were members of the group “The Sons of Africa,” which comprised free Blacks living in London. They also had working relationships with various Abolitionist groups and the radical working-class group, London Corresponding Society, and offered critiques of the Freetown resettlement. As the colonial metropolis, London in the 1800s received professional migrants from the peripheries of the empire; from the Caribbean, as well as West and East Africa in particular. Pan-Africanist intellectuals Edward W. Blyden (1832–1912), Duse Mohamed Ali (1866–1945), J. E. Casely Hayford, and (1866–1930) were all a part of these Victorian-era Black engagements in London.

London was also the scene for the gathering of the fathers and mothers of Pan-Africanism Henry Sylvester Williams W. E. B. DuBois, Benito Sylvan, Anna H. Jones, and Anna J. Cooper for the Pan-African Conference in 1900. London was also the place where Sierra Leonean, I. T. A. Wallace-Johnson, Trinidadians George Padmore, and C.L.R. James, as well as Guyanese, T. Ras Makonnen formed the International African Service Bureau to oppose the Italian invasion of Ethiopia in 1935. Whereas Manchester is not London, the 1945 Pan-African Congress is part of the general colonial metropolis scene, and the Congress

produced many of Africa's post-colonial leaders such as Hastings Banda of Malawi, Jomo Kenyatta of Kenya, and Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana who had all come to London to pursue education or professional training.²¹

It was under Nkrumah's government that Reggie Rockstone's father, St. Ossei gained a scholarship to study in London. Rockstone's tri-continental experiences began around 1966, after high ranking Armed forces and Police service officers of Ghana ousted Nkrumah, whose government had sponsored St. Ossei's schooling. Government-sponsored students were asked to return home, but St. Ossei chose to go to the U.S. with Rockstone in tow. Following the divorce of Rockstone's parents, his father, St. Ossei, married an African-American fashion model; by Rockstone's account, two strong women raise him in the multiple locations. When he was not in Accra or Kumasi, Rockstone lived in the United States with his father and stepmother, allowing him to shuffle between London, Brooklyn, New York, and Crenshaw, Los Angeles.²²

During this time a Hip-Hop scene was emerging in London, a transition from the Disco-Funk, Jazz, Reggae (Roots and Dub, Lovers Rock) scene in London in the late 1970s–1980s in places like Covent Garden. There was the development of breaking, popping, graffiti in train yards, football gangs, and the harassment of the increasing black population by skinheads.²³ This was a perfect environment for a martial artist and b-boy raised by Pan-Africanist parents. Influenced by a childhood friend, Fredi Funkstone, Rockstone transitioned from a b-boy to a rapper, the childhood friends setting up shop with Jay, and DJ Pogo, a prominent DJ who grew up in East London. The group released hits like “If it Aint PLZ” and “Build a Wall Around Your Dreams.” They enjoyed some popularity but little commercial success.

Track 4: Accra

In 1994, Reggie Rockstone returned home to Ghana under the auspices of PANAFEST to perform alongside the Jungle Brothers, who had been on tour with PLZ. The 1994 edition of PANAFEST “witnessed the participation of over 4,000 international participants from 32 countries” including the festival co-chairman, Stevie Wonder, who was also the leading artist for the festival. He, therefore, inaugurated the festival in Accra.²⁴ Accra has served as the crossroads for the meeting of different cultures for centuries. The indigenes of Accra, the Gámei or Gá people themselves migrated within the region whiles encountering and transculturating with Guan and Akan groups. Atlantic encounters with Europeans will produce an additional layer of the so-called Mulattofoi, that is, Gámei who were of Afro-European descent. Migrations from several West African groups, the Hausa of Nigeria, Yoruba and Fulani traders, the Kru of Liberia, West Indian missionaries, and Afro-Brazilian returnees characterize the colonial period beginning in the 1800s.²⁵

Since its beginning as the colonial capital in 1877 and then subsequently the capital of an independent Ghana, Accra has served as the locus for political organization. From the Accra Rate Payers Association to the All African Peoples Conference, Accra has raised nationalists and Pan-Africanists. Arguably the Pan-African capital of the world, Accra has attracted the likes of I. T. A. Wallace Johnson who raised funds for the defense of the Scottsboro Boys in the US. Both he and Nigeria's first president, Nnamdi Azikiwe had their political start as anti-colonialists in Accra. Others like Robert Mugabe taught at the famous Achimota Secondary School, Reggie Rockstone's alma mater.

Musically, Accra has been an incubator for different musical genres, the most popular being Highlife music and Afrobeat courtesy of Osibisa. Musical greats, Louis Armstrong, Wilson Pickett, Fela Kuti, Tina Turner, have all been to Ghana. With Ghana now styled as the gateway to West Africa, Accra continues to be the Black cosmopolitan public thoroughfare to West Africa.

Track 5: Outro

It was in such an atmosphere that Reggie Rockstone made his Africa Return after several years on the global Black circuit. At the same time, New Yorker, DJ Rab born to Ghanaian and African American parents and raised in New York was coming back to Accra/Africa to explore his Ghanaian heritage and to visit family. This proliferation of returns in an international Black public sphere will lead to the meeting of DJ Rab and Reggie Rockstone in a nightclub in Accra, where the two hit it off and collaborated to pioneer a new musical genre Hip-Life, which combined Hip-Hop and Ghana's Highlife music. These were different times; nightlife in Accra had gradually changed in two years following Ghana's return to democratic rule in 1992. So when Reggie Rockstone raps about "Nightlife in Accra" it was a soundtrack to his Pan-African return to Accra. According to Rab, also known as Rab the international Bakari, he "[heard them [Rockstone and Funkstone] rapping on the instrumental of Das EFX's

"Microphone Checka." I was shocked! I said to myself "Cats are getting skills like that in Accra?" I introduced myself. They could not believe that they were hooking up with an authentic producer from the Mecca of Hip Hop in Accra. It was on!²⁶

Accra then served as the global Black circuit through which Rockstone and DJ Rab returned "Back to Africa" discoursed musically to intentionally produce a musical genre with Black languages (Ebonics and Akan-Twi) that will in the spirit of Pan-Africanism bridge the gap between the U.S. and Ghana. Encounters like this are happening more frequently among people of African descent in various Black public spheres of the worldwide Hip-Hop Social Movement. Hip-Hop scenes in Havana, and Santiago de Cuba and their exchanges with African and U.S. artistes seem to be the new frontier.²⁷



Figure 34.1 Author with Reggie Rockstone, 2008 at a Bless the Mic Event in Accra, Ghana



Figure 34.2 Author with members of the African Atlantic Research Team and some Cuban Raperos in Santiago de Cuba, 2004. Thanks to Alexandra Gelbard, Visiting Scholar in the Global and Sociocultural Studies department, Florida International University (FIU), for sharing this picture.

Notes

- 1 Harry N.K. Odamtten, *Edward W. Blyden's Intellectual Transformations: Afropublicanism, Pan-Africanism, Islam, and the Indigenous West African Church* (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2019); Harry Odamtten, "Critical Departures in the Practice of Pan-Africanism in the new Millennium" in *Pan-Africanism and the Politics of African Citizenship and Identity*. (New York: Routledge, 2013); Harry N.K. Odamtten, "History of Ideas: West Africa, 'The Black Atlantic' and Pan-Africanism" Ph.D. Diss., Michigan State University, 2010.
- 2 <http://www.paff.org/> accessed 03/14/2019
- 3 For the most comprehensive definition of Hip Hop; its African roots, Pan-African dimensions, and historiography, see Msia Bona Clark, *Hip Hop in Africa: Prophets of the City and Dusty Foot Philosophers* (Athen: Ohio University Press, 2018) 3, 5–10, 206–209.
- 4 Terry Alford, *Prince Among Slaves: The True Story of an African Prince Sold Into Slavery in the American South* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2007).
- 5 In this work, I have used global black circuit, transnational Black public culture, and international Black public spheres interchangeably. But there is also an interrelated distinction between the three terms that I hope to explore in future work. However, for the purposes of this work, circuit references popular locales or places that are usually included in the itineraries and journeys of Black personalities or intellectuals. A transnational or an international Black public culture is on the hand the culture generated within an international Black public sphere. Such a sphere could be in Freetown, Sierra Leone, Santiago de Cuba, or Detroit, USA.
- 6 See historical examination in Odamtten, *Edward W. Blyden's Intellectual Transformations*, 58–67.
- 7 Afrika Bambaata in Frank Broughton, Interview: Afrika Bambaataa
From the DJ History archives: Frank Broughton's definitive chat with the hip-hop icon. <https://daily.redbullmusicacademy.com/2017/04/afrika-bambaataa-interview>
- 8 Clark, *Hip-Hop in Africa*, 21–35.

- 9 Ruth Simms Hamilton, *Routes of Passage: Rethinking the African Diaspora 1 Part 1* (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2007), 16, 19, 23.
- 10 <https://www.panafestghana.org/page/?id=2387>
- 11 For the history and development of the PANAFEST, cultural tourism, and Pan-African sites see Panafestghana.org; Panaf.org; Edmund Abaka, *House of Slaves and "Door of No Return": Gold Coast/Ghana Slave Forts, Castles & Dungeons and the Atlantic Slave Trade* (Trenton NJ: Africa World Press, 2012); John Kodwo Osei-Tutu, ed., *Forts, Castles, and Society in West Africa: Gold Coast and Dahomey, 1450–1960* (Brill, 2018), John Osei-Tutu and Victoria Ellen Smith, *Shadows of Empire: New Perspectives on European* (New York: Palgrave, 2018).
- Bayo Holsley, "Slavery Tourism: Representing a Difficult History in Ghana" in Oxford Handbook of; Bayo Holsley, *Routes of Remembrance: Refashioning the Slave Trade in Ghana*, (Chicago: University of Chicago Press (2008) Graham M. S. Dann & A. V. Seaton (2001) "Slavery, Contested Heritage and Thanatourism", *International Journal of Hospitality & Tourism Administration*, 2:3–4, 1–29; Jennifer Hasty, *Routes of Passage*.
- 12 *Documents Relative to the Colonial History of the State of New York* ed., Edmund B. O'Callaghan, (Albany: Weed, Parsons, Printers, 1855); Leslie M. Harris, *In the Shadow of Slavery: African-Americans in New York City, 1626–1863* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2003).
- 13 Leslie M. Alexander, *African or American?: Black Identity and Political Activism in New York City, 1784–1861* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2008), 158. George Foster, *New York in Slices*, 78.
- 14 Marcy Sacks, *Before Harlem: The Black Experience in New York Before World War I* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2006), 19–20. Thelma Wills Foote, *Black and White Manhattan: The History of Racial Formation in Colonial New York City* (New York: Oxford University Press), 36. Leopold S. Launitz-Schurer, "Slave Resistance in Colonial New York: An Interpretation of Daniel Horsmanden's New York Conspiracy" in *Phylon* 41 (2) 1980:137–152. Jill Lepore, *New York Burning: Liberty, Slavery, and Conspiracy in Eighteenth-Century Manhattan* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf. 2005).
- 15 Eduardo Paulino "The Evolution of Black Identity in the Dominican Republic" in *Routes of Passage: Rethinking the African Diaspora 1, Part 2*, ed., Ruth Simms Hamilton (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 2007), 23.
- 16 For discussion of Reggie Rockstone's heritage, biography and music see Harry Odamtten, *Hip-Hop Speaks, Hip-Life Answers: Global African Music* in *Native Tongues: The African Hip-Hop Reader* Edited by Paul Saucier (New Jersey: Africa World Press, 2011), Jesse Weaver Shipley, *Living the HipLife: Celebrity and Entrepreneurship in Ghanaian Popular Music* (Durham: Duke University Press, 2013) Halifu Osumare, *The Hip-Life in Ghana: West Africa's Indigenization of Hip Hop* (New York: Palgrave, 2012).
- 17 https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=sEwx_DqwmYE accessed 01/06/2019
- 18 Reggie Rockstone, Personal Conversation with author, March 21, 2019.
- 19 Odamtten, *Hip Hop Speaks*, 155–158.
- 20 Osumare, *Ghana's Hip-Life*, 16.
- 21 Kwame Nkrumah, *Ghana: The Autobiography of Kwame Nkrumah* (New York: Nelson, 1957), Marika Sherwood, "Kwame Nkrumah: The London Years, 1945–1947," in *Africans in Britain*, ed. David Killingray (London: Cass, 1994); Marc Matera, *Black London: The Imperial Metropolis and Decolonization in the Twentieth Century* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2015).
- 22 Osumare, *Ghana's Hip-Life*, 15–17.
- 23 See DJ Pogo's fascinating description of growing up in London in this interview, "DJ Pogo breaking down his history in London UltraCab Classic Hip Hop" www.youtube.com/watch?v=f0b6lj_wVXs accessed 05/24/2019.
- 24 <https://www.panafestghana.org/page/?id=2387>
- 25 S.S. Quarcoopome, "Urbanization, land Alienation and Politics in Accra" *Research Review* NS 8 nos. 1 & 2 (1992), 40–54; John Parker, *Making the Town: Ga State in Early Colonial Accra*, (Portsmouth, N.H.: Heinemann, 2000). Kevin Gaines, *American Africans in Ghana: Black Expatriates and the Civil Rights Era*. (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006); Clifford C. Campbell, "Full Circle: The Caribbean Presence in the Making of Ghana, 1843–1966" (Ph. D Dissertation: The University of Ghana, Legon, 2012), Samuel Ntewusu, *Settling in and holding on: a socio-economic history of northern traders and transporters in Accra's Tudu: 1908–2008* (Institute for History, Faculty of Humanities, Leiden University, 2011).

- 26 For DJ Rab's account of the encounter see "DJ Rab Sets the Standards" www.ghanaweb.com/GhanaHomePage/entertainment/DJ-Rab-Sets-the-Standards-191119 accessed 06/10/2019; for other accounts see Shipley, *Living the Hiplife* and Osumare, *Ghana's Hiplife*.
- 27 Personal Conversations with Alexandra Gelbard who has been researching Cuban music since 2012.

Part VII

The contemporary and continued relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

The contemporary relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century

Mueni wa Muiu

Pan-Africanism developed in the new world in the face of racial discrimination and dehumanization of people of African descent. The following African American and Afro-Caribbean activists and intellectuals were the key actors in its creation: W.E.B Du Bois, Paul Robeson, CL.R. James, George Padmore and Marcus Garvey. The first Pan-African congress meetings which were organized by W.E.B Du Bois in London, Paris, Brussels and London as well as in Brussels and Lisbon favored the gradual independence of African countries. Some mothers of Pan-Africanism include Amy Jacques Garvey, Amy Ashwood Garvey, Shirley Graham Du Bois, Audley Moore and Dara Abubakari.¹ There are certain common factors that unite people of African descent based on Pan-Africanism which include the common suffering under slavery, colonialism, neocolonialism as well as cultural and political factors. Although the cultures of people of African descent in Africa, Asia, Europe and North America may be different, based on economic class they experience some similar conditions such as poverty and discrimination. Because of poverty, ethnic, racial or religious discrimination and war some people of African descent are forced to live in inhumane conditions. In what ways can the ideology of Pan-Africanism be harnessed as a weapon to better the conditions facing people of African descent? Only radical Pan-Africanism can be relevant in the 21st century. By “radical” we mean a Pan-Africanism that leads to economic empowerment, control of resources within the continent, peace and African Unity. Economic empowerment of the majority of people of African descent will halt the migration to Western countries. It will also provide opportunities for African youth to succeed as they live lives of dignity. This chapter will examine the relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century by focusing on conflict, forced migration and poverty as well as education.

Is Pan-Africanism relevant in the face of conflict, forced migration and poverty?

Africa has an area of 11.7 million square miles. The continent is so large that the following areas can fit in it and yet there would be more space: Argentina, China, India, New Zealand and USA. Based on 2017 estimates, Africa’s population was 1.2 billion with 94 persons per square mile. Given its size and resources, Africa is underpopulated. With its small population

scattered in 55 countries, some African countries lack the resources to empower their own citizens let alone their neighbors. Furthermore, when conflict breaks out in one country some of these countries can hardly support the refugee population without international support. Pan-Africanism is relevant in this scenario because when used effectively it can provide the solutions for conflict and forced migration. Since African countries are not united, each country makes its own foreign policy. As a result, client states have developed that owe their allegiance to countries/companies that put the leaders in power rather than to the majority of the population. While elections are held to usher in new leaders—the economic roots of conflicts are never addressed, for example, in the Democratic Republic of the Congo, Somalia and Sudan. In the face of conflict, forced migration and war, electoral politics which are championed by liberal democracy do not offer any long-term solutions. African indigenous forms of governance based on participation and consensus would be effective in solving the issues that lead to conflict. In most of these countries, loyalties are still based on the community, clan or group rather than states. Solutions to problems can only be effective if the people understand and identify with the methods used. Since the present African state system is too fragile to withstand any challenges, viable alternatives to the state must be pursued. Such alternatives include, entities that most of the population understand, are loyal to, based on both indigenous and modern forms of governance. Toward that end, governance will be based on a “participative negotiated consensus.”² The new entities will be critical in halting foreign meddling, client states as well as disorganization and violence that is the norm in some of the continent’s regions.

Historically, the African state was created for extraction purposes (labor, markets and raw material) to fulfill the economic needs of the colonizing countries. This trend was further strengthened by the neocolonial relationships that African countries have with these countries. Human rights for the African people were never on the agenda regardless of the colonial powers in control of the countries. This lack of respect for African lives is laid bare whenever conflicts break out. In their present state, African countries do not have a common policy when dealing with issues of conflict, forced migration or xenophobia. Without unity, these countries are vulnerable as each one tries to carve its own foreign policy. At times African countries compete against each other for favor with foreign countries. For example, post-apartheid South Africa and Rwanda compete for international favor against other African countries. Since there is no common African foreign policy which outlines the ideals of the continent, client states can play a lethal role in prolonging conflict. As a result, large populations are internally displaced as different mercenaries fight over their resources. This competition is also extended to some African leaders who compete against each other whether for favor from their former colonizers, new allies or the minorities within their countries. Some of these leaders believe that the countries that they govern belong to them and their allies rather than serving their citizens. These egos act as a break to African unity in the face of conflict because some of these leaders are driven by arrogance and revenge. Since there is so much competition, fear, greed and jealousy between some leaders, conflicts are prolonged resulting in mass death and suffering. Africa’s disunity unites diverse elements, whether companies, countries or mercenaries, to exploit its resources as its people live in terror. Only a united front within a radical brand of Pan-Africanism can give African leaders a common vision for the continent.

Africa is a resource rich continent whether in minerals, land or water. Yet, access to these resources has resulted in major conflicts and war from the Democratic Republic of the Congo, Central Africa to Libya. Since African countries are not united, it is easy for individual countries to be destroyed. In the midst of the chaos and violence that ensues, different

mercenaries exploit African resources while slavery becomes the norm as is the case in Libya. Countries like Libya are used as “lessons” so that other African countries can obey their neo-colonial masters. Other conflicts are labelled as “ethnic,” “religious,” or “terrorist” such as in Cameroon, Central Africa, Somalia and Sudan. As a result, of the various conflicts, diverse organizations have moved into these areas where they have become sources of constant terror. The common feature about African conflicts is that they are a major source of business whether for Non-governmental Organizations or peace keepers. Another common feature is that no long-term solutions are found for these conflicts in spite of all the large numbers of actors involved.

In order for people to think, create and innovate they need to live in peaceful conditions. The basic idea of Pan-Africanism cannot triumph under conditions of constant terror. These conflicts have forced citizens out of their homes into refugee camps while others have died trying to get into Europe. Some Africans within the continent have been forced to move out of resource rich rural areas into slums because of conflict whether over water, cattle or land. How then can we speak of Pan-Africanism in the face of mass migration? To make Pan-Africanism relevant to the contemporary period it has to be harnessed to solve the problems that cause these wars. The African Union cannot be viable if it is unable to solve the problems that force Africans out of their homes. What kind of organization remains mute and inactive in the face of so much suffering of its people? If the AU is to be effective it must break down its dependency on foreign funding while developing its own vision. A self-sufficient AU will play a critical role in Pan-Africanism because it will marginalize divisive elements on the continent. It will also protect the interests of its citizens’ members rather than those of the elite and its allies.

Only a radical form of Pan-Africanism which empowers rural communities to harness the resources within their borders can be relevant in the face of conflict. Conflict over resources is reduced once local communities are provided with opportunities to participate in creating wealth based on the region’s resources. In some cases, ethnicity is used (whether by some politicians or other entities) as a divisive tool resulting in conflict. Some people say “I am poor because so and so is rich” or “So and so is rich because that ethnic group is made up of corrupt people” etc. If no one breaks this cycle of thinking down, conflict is likely to arise. Once people are encouraged to be creators of opportunities and innovators, they cease blaming others for their failure. Education will be critical in transforming this dependency mind-set. By providing opportunities for all regardless of ethnicity or background-radical, Pan-Africanism will empower people of African descent economically. Without peaceful co-existence among diverse people, pan Africanism is irrelevant. Radical Pan-Africanism must be used as the weapon to dislodge the various actors that have taken over Africa’s resource rich areas. In the political dimension, radical Pan-Africanism will be based on participatory-consensus democracy.

Transformative education for radical Pan-Africanism in the 21st century

By “transformative education” we mean curriculums that equip children of African descent with the skills that they need to solve the issues in their communities. These students are transformers of their communities. It also prepares the child to triumph in different conditions and environments. Transformative education acts as a bridge between the child, culture and the environment. It uses all aspects of African culture present and past as well as members of its community. For example, during story time children read books as well as listen

to stories from the older members of the community. Based on transformative education, the university student is equipped to use resources in the community including the knowledge of elders. For example, when new crops are introduced the agricultural student consults the elders to understand which ones do well in the area instead of treating them as irrelevant. For development to be successful, transformative education prepares the student to be equal with members of the community instead of treating them as inferior. The members of the community must trust him/her as one of them. Based on this training, transformative education equips students to be servants of the community rather than alienated and aloof members who think they are superior. As servants of the community, students are active in every aspect of its development. Transformative education is geared towards improving conditions in the community. It improves the cultural, physical and spiritual dimensions of community members. "For real development means the development, the growth, of people."³

The "growth" of people means that they live lives of dignity: access to education, food, health care, shelter and security. Towards that end, transformative education provides opportunities for community members to get out of poverty. Students who have undergone a transformative curriculum share their knowledge and skills with the rest of the community (currently only Egypt requires students to share their knowledge with ten other people). This experience allows students to learn from other members of the community while sharing their book knowledge. It also creates a bond between the students and the community. It creates visionaries who have a moral responsibility to improve the conditions facing the majority of the members of their communities. For example, on the continent students can be critical in informing members of their communities not to sell their land since it is the source of their food and livelihood. Once some people sell their land, they become homeless whether in rural towns or in city slums. Out of desperation, these people and their children become criminals, alcoholics or murderers. Without healthy people of African descent, Pan-Africanism is irrelevant in the 21st century.

Whether Pan-Africanism is relevant in the 21st century will depend on the kind of education that African children are taught. While on the African continent most Africans do not encounter daily humiliations based on white supremacy, they still have to live under conditions determined by most of its international organizations. The loan conditions set out by the international Monetary Bank and the World Bank determine the nature of education that African children are exposed to. The neo-colonial conditions that African countries face also determine the pedagogy that is used to teach African children. To a large extent people of African descent in Europe and North America cannot decide on the education that is taught to their children unless they home-school these children. People of African descent face the instruments of white supremacy daily which shape their outlook. These observations do not mean that Africans and people of African descent have no options. They do.

Transformative education breaks down barriers whether between Western educated people/traditional ones, or Africa/diaspora, rural/urban, Africa/South Africa. It results in a graduate who is aware of self and others. While colonial education alienated the student from his/her parents, transformative education strengthens this bond by allowing children to be taught in African languages too. Language and culture shape how members of society interact with each other. It also shapes their culture and thought process. The use of language remains the greatest obstacle in an education that transforms the community. In some areas, parents are proud when their child cannot speak a word of their language. Transformative education cannot succeed without a uniform language policy that privileges African languages. By educating African children about other parts of Africa and the Diaspora,

transformative education builds a sense of empathy in these students. As a result, it breaks down Xenophobia in South Africa where fellow Africans kill “Ngweregwere” (Africans from other parts of the continent) based on the belief that they are “taking” their economic opportunities away from them. Apartheid education taught South Africans that they were better than Africans from the rest of the continent.

Transformative education aims at empowering the emotional, physical and spiritual aspects of the African child. Similar to indigenous systems, where children learned through experience, transformative education privileges experiential learning. Children learn by doing something. It balances book knowledge with physical labor without privileging the former. It is a cross between the ideals of Frantz Fanon, W.E.B Du Bois, Booker T. Washington, Julius Nyerere and Steve Biko. Transformative education equips the African child as a member of the community, country and continent rather than as an individual. It takes into account community preservation, environment, as well as spiritual development as indigenous forms of education did. In transformative education, the child learns about new ideas by applying them to real issues. No community can develop without innovators and philosophers who help curve its future development. Transformative education is based on humility and sacrifice. According to transformative education each member of the community must contribute based on their ability because there are no hand-outs. Based on transformative education, there will be no food desserts because each member of the community will contribute in creating a community garden. It creates a responsible citizen who is morally obliged to give back to the community. Transformative education does not privilege book knowledge over physical labor or office work over farming. Based on transformative education, we are what we eat. The student is taught through experience how to make healthy food choices not only from buying the food but by planting it. By using transformative education many diseases that plague people of African descent such as diabetes, high blood pressure and obesity can be eliminated.

What kind of education can result in radical Pan-Africanism? By “radical” we mean a Pan-Africanism that not only aims at uniting all people of African descent but one that empowers them economically, culturally and politically. Such a brand of Pan-Africanism requires people of African descent who have the material means to contribute to the empowerment of Africans whether in the diaspora or on the continent. Without Africans who are willing to give back to their communities, radical Pan-Africanism cannot triumph. In such a scenario, education is critical because it is the key factor in shaping one’s outlook to life. Any form of education that encourages dependency whether on leaders, family or country does not lead to liberation. The type of education that African children are exposed to still worships cultural and environmental alienation. It marginalizes Africa’s contributions to world civilization and culture. A graduate of this form of education yearns for material wealth without having the intellectual curiosity to create it. As a result, intellectual ability and innovation are marginalized. This present form of education also alienates the African child from poor and rural areas. Without empathy with the poor and communities in rural areas, the African adult cannot give back. This African sees her/his role as critical only as a consumer of material goods but never as an innovator who can transform the conditions facing the majority of the people. This person of African descent has nothing to offer their community except criticism. As noted by Frantz Fanon, in a neo-colonial condition the bourgeoisie of the developing country plays an intermediary role. All its efforts are directed from the former colonial country which “will have taken all precautions when setting up neo-colonialist trade conventions.”⁴ A transformative education can empower the child of African descent as an innovator and entrepreneur who harnesses technology to compete at

the domestic level as well as in the global sector. As a creator of wealth and opportunity, a child who has undergone a transformative education looks beyond self-interest as he/she protects the resources of the continent. This child is a visionary.

How then can education become a transforming agent to empower people of African descent? Such an education will be critical in the following areas: at home, in the classroom, community and in the political sphere. This is not to assume that there are no major challenges when dealing with aspects of education. But in spite of such challenges as alcoholism, broken families, aspects of modernity that demean elders of the community and poverty, education can still be transformed. When we speak of education at home—it begins with the knowledge that the child of African descent is not “less than” others. This child accepts his/her African features. The growing movement of Africans accepting their natural hair is encouraging. It is this self-esteem that will empower the child of African descent to compete and succeed at all levels not only in modeling or sports but also in African languages and civilization, history, literature, innovation, as well as in math and science.

The greatest disservice done to the child of African descent is in the classroom. Most education curriculums whether on the continent or in the diaspora do not teach the African child about African civilization and contribution to the world. A complete curriculum should take into account the triple heritage based on the three elites: African indigenous systems, Muslim and Christian. In some cases, only the elite educated based on Western values are privileged. Furthermore, some schools on the continent are operated by Non-Governmental Organizations which have competing agendas. The African state whether because of war, poverty, or neglect is unable to develop viable educational curriculums for the empowerment of its citizens. The state is also facing major challenges in the face of globalization and liberal democracy which undermine most of its previous responsibilities. For example, with more privatization, schools that were operated by states have been privatized. Some of these schools are run like companies where the people in charge are not qualified to be educators. Furthermore, they do not have a common goal as far as the culture, history and environment of the countries involved are concerned. The emphasis on individualism has also undermined the role of the community in running their schools. In these curriculums, Western civilization is privileged as the genesis of all knowledge.

A transformative education must also change the curriculum. Once the African child starts life from a position of confidence and self-esteem, any challenge can be tackled. Such brand of education results in a child of African descent who can empathize with the conditions of less fortunate members of the community. It produces a graduate who is not alienated from the community. Such a graduate has a moral duty to give back to the community in material goods, opportunity and service. The graduate of a transformative education also empathizes with members of the community who are less fortunate. Without a firm grounding in technology, and a curriculum that focuses on innovation rather than memorization, education cannot be transformative to play the critical role that is needed for the 21st century. Such an education will equip children of African descent with the skills needed to manage the resources within their borders. It is interesting to note that schools of mines are not visible on the continent which is rich in coltan, diamonds, gold, oil and platinum to name a few. Transformative education is more critical in the 21st century in the face of globalization, neocolonialism and individualism. Whether by acting through community gatherings, churches, mosques or social media, transformative education can inculcate a sense of shame in members of the community who have accepted dehumanization as a fact of life. It is this sense of community that can also radicalize Pan-Africanism.

What role can transformative education play at the community level? Let us take the example of gentrification which is occurring in most American cities. A member of the community who has undergone transformative education can carry out projects in the community that empower its members. For example, some entrepreneurs are engaging in gentrification projects without over pricing the properties out of reach of local residents. They are also providing job opportunities to members of the community while preserving its cultural and historical make-up. Instead of working against members of the community, such projects work with the support of the community, therefore, empowering them. In rural areas of Kenya, some members of the community are also engaging in similar projects whereby they renovate old buildings using local talent to empower the community. There is enough brain power within members of the African diaspora and those on the continent to engage in similar projects. Members of the African diaspora have a critical role to play in transformative education. One of the major crises facing the continent is brain drain of African born expertise whether to Asia, Europe, or North America. These Africans can contribute either through innovative projects back home, monetary transfers (which is already happening), or creating schools on the continent where they share their expertise (already happening) as they teach younger generations using transformative education.

Conclusion

The founding fathers and mothers of Pan-Africanism opened avenues for political freedoms. Present and future generations must blast open the avenues for economic empowerment which are major barrier to economic development. Globalization has heightened economic exploitation leaving the majority of the people on the continent in desperate conditions. Even in South Africa where liberal democracy was promoted as the best example of preserving rights in the “rainbow nation,” it has been a dismal failure. Economic rights for the majority of Africans are still a distant dream. Most of these Africans are still born and they die in deplorable conditions in townships. Instead of the end of apartheid resulting in economic empowerment for Africans, it freed foreign owned capital in South Africa to exploit the rest of the continent. Under the guise of globalization, these firms have displaced local businesses. A radical Pan-Africanism would be critical in providing opportunities for local businesses to triumph based on their products. It would provide opportunities for more innovation like *Mpesa* (Kenya) money transfer systems to be developed throughout the continent. Children of African descent whether they live in the slums of Cairo (Egypt), Kibera (Kenya), Crossroads (South Africa) or Detroit (USA) would benefit from transformative education as everyone gives back and is economically empowered. Toward that end, poverty, dehumanization and violence cease to be the destiny of the child of African descent because each one of us becomes ashamed of these conditions and *does something*. For democracy to be viable, it must also entail economic freedom and rights. The majority of the population must also enjoy the benefits of political freedom as they live lives of dignity. Liberal democracy privileges political freedom over economic rights. Yet, it is economic rights within a radical Pan-Africanism framework which will lead to the solutions of the problems faced by people of African descent.

If Pan-Africanism is to be used as a tool to unite people of African descent, while empowering them economically three developments are essential. The first one is to eliminate colonial borders, allow freedom of movement and to fund the African Union. The clause that was inherited by the African Union (AU) from the Organization of African Unity (OAU) that respects colonial borders must be eliminated. To break the stronghold of

neocolonialism on the continent, Frantz Fanon's observations are relevant in the contemporary period as they were then:

Get Africa moving, collaborate in its organization, its regroupment, on revolutionary principles. Participating in the coordinated movement of a continent; that, definitely, is the task I had chosen...having taken Algeria to the four corners of Africa, we now have to go back with the whole of Africa to African Algeria, towards the north, towards the continental city of Algiers. That is what I want: great channels of communication across the desert. To wear out the desert, to deny it, to bring together Africa and to create the continent...Take the absurd and the impossible, rub it up the wrong way and hurl a continent into the assault on the rampart of colonial power.⁵

It is easier to travel throughout the continent with a foreign passport than an African country's passport. All Africans and people of African descent must be allowed free movement within the continent. Without free movement, people cannot learn from each other, empathize and contribute fully to the development of the continent. Freedom of movement will only be mutually beneficial once transformative education becomes the norm both on the continent and in the diaspora. Free movement is also critical to break down the barriers of ignorance as well as ethnic strife. Towards that end, it allows an African identity to triumph over all other forms. It should be noted in this respect that the AU's addition of the sixth zone which represents the African diaspora has opened avenues for development. Other countries should follow the example of Ghana by allowing people of African descent to settle without commercializing its history of suffering as "tourism." Countries like Kenya have also allowed fellow Africans to settle as long as they obey its laws. These developments allow people of African descent to share skills, to learn from each other and to know more about the continent. Free movement will also increase revenue as visas are eliminated while boosting tourism. As long as people of African descent obey the laws of the particular country, they should be allowed to live in peace. Without peace, there is no life. "Peace" does not mean the absence of war. It is the ability of people of African descent to live lives of dignity.

Since no group of people can develop another group or people, if the African Union has to be viable it has to be funded by African countries. It is naïve to imagine that an organization that is funded from foreign sources without any radical programs to empower the majority of the people can be effective as a Pan-Africanist tool. Finally, African countries must unite. The more the majority of the population of the people become aware of the conditions facing them, the causes of those problems, as well as the means of changing these conditions, the more prepared they are in transforming their lives for the better. Once the people are conscious of their condition, no charismatic figure, religion or amount of *ubuntu* will stop them from eliminating the conditions that enslave them. Afterall, if Pan-Africanism is to be relevant it has to be radical as well as any government on the continent:

...ought to govern by the people and for the people, for the outcasts and by the outcasts. No leader, however valuable he may be, can substitute himself for the popular will; and the national government, before concerning itself with international prestige, ought first to give back their dignity to all citizens, fill their minds and feast their eyes with human things, and create a prospect that is human because conscious and sovereign men dwell therein.⁶

Notes

- 1 Guy Martin. *African Political Thought*. (New York: Palgrave MacMillan 2012): 57; See also, Ashley Farmer. "Mothers of Pan-Africanism: Audley Moore and Dara Abubakari" *Women, Gender, and Families of Color* (Vol. 4, # 2, Fall 2016): 274–295; Rosemary Onyango "Echoes of Pan Africanism in Black Panther" *Africology: The Journal of Pan African Studies*, (Vol. 11, no. 9, August 2018):39–43; "Pan-Africanism" In *The Columbia Encyclopedia*, by Paul Lagasse and Columbia University. (8th ed) (Online) Columbia University Press, 2018. <http://www.credoreference.com>.; Wayne Edge. *Global Studies: Africa*. (Dubuque, IA: McGraw-Hill/Dushkin, 2006):3.; Guy Martin. "The West, Natural Resources and Population Control Policies in Africa in Historical Perspective," *Journal of Third World Studies* 22, no. 1 (Spring 2005): 69–107.
- 2 Claude Ake. *The Feasibility of Democracy in Africa*. (Dakar: CODESRIA,2000):32; See also Kwame Nkrumah. *Africa Must Unite*. (London: Panaf, 1963): xvi.; Julius Nyerere. *Man and Development Binaadam na Maendeleo*. (London: Oxford University Press, 1974): 4.
- 3 Nyerere:1974, 8.
- 4 Frantz Fanon.*The Wretched of the Earth* (New York: Grove Press, 1963): 179; see also Ngugi wa Thiong'o, Ngugi. *Decolonising the Mind: The Politics of Language in African Literature*. Nairobi: Heinemann, 1981; Mueni wa Muiui & Guy Martin "Challenges in Post-Apartheid South Africa: Economy, Health & Land" *African Studies & Research Forum (ASARF) North Carolina Central University, Durham, NC* (28–30, March 2019) 23rd Annual conference; Mueni wa Muiui & Guy Martin. *A New Paradigm of the African State: Fundi wa Afrika*: 195–205.
- 5 Frantz Fanon. "Cette Afrique a Venir" cited in D.Macey. *Frantz Fanon: A Life*. (London: Granta Books, 2000):439–440; see also Neville, Alexander. "New meanings of Panafricanism in the era of globalization" *The Fourth Annual Frantz Fanon Distinguished Lecture, DePaul University, Chicago*, 8 October 2003):1; Daniel J. Naidoo, V. & Naidu, S. "The South Africans have arrived: Post-Apartheid Corporate expansion into Africa" in Daniel J. Habib & Southall R. (eds). *State of the Nation. South Africa 2003–2004* (Cape Town: HSRC Press, 2002).
- 6 Frantz Fanon: *The Wretched of the Earth* (New York: Grove Press 1963): 205.

Bibliography

- Ake, Claude. *The Feasibility of Democracy in Africa*. Dakar: CODESRIA, 2000.
- Alexander, Neville. "New Meanings of Panafricanism in the Era of Globalization." *The Fourth Annual Frantz Fanon Distinguished Lecture, DePaul University, Chicago, IL*, 8 October 2003.
- Basiru, Adeniyi S., Salawu Mashud, L.A. and Adepoju, Adewale. "Radical Pan-Africanism and Africa's Integration: A Retrospective Exploration and Prospective Prognosis." *Ufahamu* 41, 1 (Fall 2018): 103–124.
- Bolaji Ganiy Abdul Hadi Mohammed. "The African Union's Call for Global Pan-Africanism and the Ghana-Diaspora Relations in the 21st Century." *Journal of Black Studies* 46, 1 (January 2015): 62–101.
- Bond, Patrick. *Against Global Apartheid. South Africa Meets the World Bank, IMF and International Finance*. Cape Town: University of Capet Town Press, 2001.
- "Pan-Africanism." In *The Columbia Encyclopedia*, by Lagasse Paul and Columbia University. (8th ed) (Online) Columbia University Press, 2018. www.credoreference.com. Accessed March 18th, 2019.
- Edge, Wayne. *Global Studies: africa*. Dubuque, IA: McGraw-Hill/Dushkin, 2006.
- Edozie, Kiki Rita. "The Sixth Zone: the African Diaspora and the African Union's Global Era Pan Africanism." *Journal of African American Studies* 16, 2 (June 2012): 268–299.
- Fanon, Frantz. *The Wretched of the Earth*. New York: Grove Press, 1963.
- Farmer, Ashley. "Mothers of Pan-Africanism: audley Moore and Dara Abubakari." *Women, Gender, and Families of Color* 4, # 2 (Fall 2016): 274–295.
- Gershenhorn, Jerry. "St Claire Drake, Pan -africanism, African Studies, and the Politics of Knowledge 1945–1965." *The Journal of African American History* 98, 3 (Symposium: St Claire Drake: The Making of a Scholar-Activist (Summer 2013): 422–433.
- Grill, Matteo. "Nkrumah, Nationalism, and Pan-Africanism: the Bureau of African Affairs Collection." *History in Africa* 44, (2017): 295–307.
- Leys, Colin. "Confronting the African Tragedy." *New Left Review* 204, (1994): 33–47.
- Macey, D. *Frantz Fanon: A Life*. London: Granta Books, 2000.

- Mannoni, O. *Prospero and Caliban: the Psychology of Colonization*. New York: Frederick Praeger, 1966.
- Martin, Guy. "The West, Natural Resources and Population Control Policies in Africa in Historical Perspective," *Journal of Third World Studies* 22, 1 (Spring 2005): 69–107.
- Martin, Guy. *African Political Thought*. New York: Palgrave MacMillan, 2012.
- Muiiu, Mueni wa. *The Pitfalls of Liberalism and Late Nationalism in South Africa*. New York: Palgrave McMillan, 2008.
- Muiiu, Mueni wa. Martin. Guy. *A New Paradigm of the African State: fundi Wa Afrika*. New York: Palgrave, 2009.
- Muiiu, Mueni wa and Martin, Guy. "Challenges in Post-Apartheid South Africa: Economy, Health & Land" African Studies & Research Forum (ASARF) *North Carolina Central University, Durham, NC* (28–30, March 2019) 23rd Annual conference.
- Mungwini, Pascah. "Pan-africanism and Epistemologies of the South." *Theoria*, Vol. 64, no. 153, 4 (December 2017): 165–186.
- Naidoo, Daniel J. and Naidu, S. "The South Africans Have Arrived: post-Apartheid Corporate Expansion into Africa." In Daniel J. Habib and R. Southall. edited by. *State of the Nation. South Africa 2003–2004* (Cape Town: HSRC Press, 2002), pp. 368–390.
- Nkrumah, Kwame. *Africa Must Unite*. London: Panaf, 1963.
- Nyerere, Julius. *Man and Development Binadam Na Maendeleo*. London: Oxford University Press, 1974.
- Onyango, Rosemary. "Echoes of Pan Africanism in Black Panther." *Africology: the Journal of Pan African Studies* 11, 9 (August 2018): 39–43.
- Padmore, George. *Pan-Africanism or Communism*. New York: Double Day, 1972.
- Tariki, Latif A. "Travel Notes: pan Africanism (Re) Visited: from Sankofa to Afrofuturism-Summary of the "2nd Kwame Nkrumah Pan-African Intellectual & Cultural Festival." *Africology: the Journal of Pan African Studies* 12, 1 (September 2018): 537–559.
- Thiong'o, Ngugi wa. *Decolonising the Mind: the Politics of Language in African Literature*. Nairobi: Heineman, 1981.
- Ugwuanyi, Lawrence Ogbo. "Critiquing Sub-Saharan Pan-Africanism through an Appraisal of Postcolonial African Modernity." *Theoria*, Vol. 64, no. 153, 4 (December 2017): 58–84.

Pan-Africanism and African unity

Guy Martin

Definition and dimensions

Pan-Africanism is an ideal and a movement aiming at uniting African people with people from the African diaspora—particularly from the Americas, the Caribbean and Europe—against cultural marginalization, political domination/oppression, and economic exploitation. Thus, the three dimensions of Pan-Africanism are: cultural, political and economic. Culturally, Pan-Africanism aims at reclaiming Africa’s heritage, history, culture, traditions and values. Politically, Pan-Africanism is linked to the African nationalist struggle for independence and for African unity. Economically, Pan-Africanism is linked to the struggle against imperialism, colonialism, neo-colonialism and globalization—that is against the Western strategies of “divide-and-rule” that resulted in the fragmentation—or balkanization—of Africa.

Historical background

Historically, Pan-Africanism may be divided into two distinct periods: (1) Pan-Africanism as ideal and utopia, as it emerged in the United States, the Caribbean and Europe—between 1900 and 1945; and (2) the African phase of Pan-Africanism (or “Homecoming”) from the mid-1950s to the present, linked to the concept of African unity. Pan-Africanism first emerged in North America and the Caribbean as a cultural and political ideal and movement—or “Dream of Unity”—promoted by prominent radical intellectual elites such as W.E.B. Du Bois, C.L.R. James, George Padmore and Paul Robeson.

The term “Pan-Africanism” was first coined in 1893 at the *Congress on Africa* (Chicago). The very first Pan-African Congress took place in London in 1900. The sequence and venue of the subsequent Pan-African Congresses is as follows: First (1900, London); Second (1921, London, Paris and Brussels); Third (1923, London and Lisbon); Fourth (1927, New York); and Fifth (1945, Manchester, U.K.).

In 1919, Pan-Africanism became a more distinctly popular movement under the activist leadership of Marcus Garvey’s *Universal Negro Improvement Association* (UNIA) culminating in his “Back to Africa” movement and the creation of the *Black Star Line* shipping line, culminating with the creation of the state of Liberia in 1817—Independent in 1847. *Negritude*—a distinctly cultural

brand of Pan-Africanism aimed at re-asserting the intrinsic value and unique contribution of African culture to World Civilization—emerged in Paris (France) in the 1930s around such influential intellectuals as Leopold Sedar Senghor (Senegal), Aime Cesaire (Martinique) and Leon-Gontran Damas (French Guyana). The Fifth Pan-African Congress (Manchester, U.K., October 1945) may truly be described as “Homecoming” as it linked for the first time the North American, Caribbean and African branches of Pan-Africanism around such leading intellectuals and political activists as Peter Abrahams, Hastings Kamuzu Banda, W.E.B. DuBois, Jomo Kenyatta, Kwame Nkrumah and George Padmore. In addition to linking together its different regional branches, this distinctly political brand of Pan-Africanism—or African Nationalism—specifically aimed at achieving the political independence of all the African territories still under colonial rule. At this point, the Pan-African political ideal actually morphed into the policy objective of African unity. It is with the First Conference of Independent African States in 1958 (Accra, Ghana) that the Pan-Africanist ideal morphed into an inter-governmental movement.¹

Mention should be made here of the role of women activists in the Pan-African movement. Influenced by the ideas of Marcus Garvey and his UNIA and by such organizations as the *Universal Association of African Women* (UAAW), two African American women from Louisiana—Audley Moore and Dara Abubakari—may rightly be referred to as the “Mothers of Pan-Africanism.” Between the 1960s and the 1980s, Moore and Abubakari were both actively promoting the Pan-African ideal at the grassroots level within such radical organizations as the *Republic of New Africa* and the *Revolutionary Action Movement*. Thus, both Moore and Abubakari played a key role in the struggle for the liberation of African peoples and peoples of African descent in general, and in integrating women in African nation-building in particular.²

Radical vs. Functional Pan-Africanism

In 1957, under the dynamic and influential leadership of its first President Kwame Nkrumah—an ardent Pan-Africanist—Ghana became the first sub-Saharan African country to become independent. In 1958, three Socialist West African states—Ghana, Guinea and Mali—created a political union as the nucleus of a future *Union of African States* which never materialized. As outlined by Kwame Nkrumah in his seminal book *Africa Must Unite* (1963), the Socialist African states—signatories of the *Casablanca Charter* of 1960: Algeria, Congo, Ghana, Guinea and Mali—advocated a radical brand of African unity aimed at achieving immediate political and economic integration in the form of *United States of Africa* consisting of an African Common Market, African Monetary Union, African Military High Command and a continent-wide Union Government of African States.³ On the other hand, moderate African states espousing Liberal Democracy and members of the *Brazzaville/Monrovia Group* (1961) led by Cote d’Ivoire’s Felix Houphouet-Boigny and Kenya’s Jomo Kenyatta—also including Nigeria—advocated a gradual (or functional), step-by-step approach to integration in the areas of transport, telecommunications, science, technology and the economy as a first step towards political integration. This approach culminated in the U.N. Economic Commission for Africa’s proposed division of Africa into five (5) sub-regions, each with its own Economic Union. The actual sequential process of economic integration is as follows: (1) Free-Trade Area (abolition of trade barriers); (2) Customs Union (common tariff policy); (3) Common Market (free movement of persons, labor, goods and services); (4) Economic Union (harmonization of national economic policies); and (5) Economic integration (unified economic and social policies, and a supra-national authority). Eventually, six (6) sub-regional economic organizations were created for each African sub-region, one—COMESA—being common to Eastern and Southern Africa. These are: (1) The Arab Maghreb Union (AMU; 1989) in North

Africa, including Algeria, Libya, Mauritania, Morocco and Tunisia; (2) The Economic Community of West African States (ECOWAS; 1975) in West Africa (16 member states); (3) The Economic Community of Central African States (ECCAS; 1983) in Central Africa; (4) The East African Community (1967–77; revised: 1999) in East Africa (Kenya, Uganda and Tanzania); (5) The Common Market for Eastern and Southern Africa (COMESA; 1993), including 21 member states from Eastern and Southern Africa; and (6) The Southern African Development Community (SADC; 1992), consisting of 13 Southern African states (including South Africa). So far, the two best-performing sub-regional organizations—which have only reached level one: Free-Trade Area—are the EAC (with intra-regional trade at 16%) and SADC (with intra-regional trade at 13%). The ultimate objective is for these sub-regional organizations to jointly create—by 2021—an African Economic Union, including an African Monetary Union with an African Central Bank.

This gradualist/functionalist approach eventually prevailed, as exemplified by the creation of a weak and loosely-structured *Organization of African Unity* (OAU) in Addis Ababa (Ethiopia) on May 25, 1963 and of its successor organization the *African Union* (AU; May 26, 2001). Modeled on the European Union, the organs of the African Union include: The Commission (Secretariat); the Council of Ministers; the Pan-African Parliament; the African Court of Justice and the African Peace and Security Council. Back in 1991, the Treaty of Abuja—adopted by the OAU member states—proposed the creation of six Pan-African institutions, namely: (1) the Pan-African Parliament; (2) the Court of Justice and Human Rights; (3) the Economic, Social and Cultural Council; (4) the African Central Bank; (5) the African Monetary Fund; and (6) the African Investment Bank. As of 2019, only the first three institutions have actually been created.

Since Kwame Nkrumah's passing from the African political scene in February 1966 and his death in exile in 1972, Libya's Muammar Gaddafi became the main advocate of Radical Pan-Africanism and of African continental unity in Africa. Thus, in 2010, Gaddafi proposed the creation of a Pan-African currency unit, the African Gold Dinar, based on Libya's vast oil reserves. Unfortunately, in October 2011, he was removed from power and killed following a joint American/British/French military intervention, thus terminating the project of African monetary union.⁴ Since then, no other African leader—with the possible exception of Zimbabwe's Robert Mugabe—has assumed the mantle of Radical Pan-Africanism.

Pan-Africanism: a dream deferred

In the early years of African independence (1960s), the Radical Pan-Africanists leaders' dream of unity was deferred in favor of the gradualist/functionalist perspective embodied in the OAU. What accounts for this failure is: the reluctance of newly-independent African leaders to abandon their newly-won sovereignty in favor of a broader political union; suspicion on the part of many African leaders that Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana intended to become the super-president of a united Africa; and divide-and-rule strategies on the part of major Western powers (including the United States, Britain and France) meant to sabotage any attempt at African unity. The African Union which, in 2001, formally replaced the OAU, is also bound to fail because it is modeled on the European Union and gives precedence to state sovereignty. Recently, the AU has launched several reform initiatives to make it more effective; however, these initiatives have failed because of lack of implementation. One key recommendation was to enable the AU to finance itself in the long term. Today, 80% of the funding of the AU comes from foreign donors. One of the AU's key priorities is to overcome Africa's current economic and political fragmentation. Thus, Africa today has eight different—and partly overlapping—regional trade zones. Furthermore, the free

movement of people within the AU has yet to be achieved. Today, Africans need visas to travel to more than half of the countries within the continent. In this regard, the recently-issued AU passport needs to be made available to all eligible citizens as quickly as possible.⁵

Reconfiguring the African state: proposals for a new political map of Africa

In this section, we briefly survey various—past and current—proposals for a reconfiguration of the African state and a revision of the political map of Africa essentially put forward by African scholars—the Africanists—including, most notably: Cheikh Anta Diop's *Federal African State*; Joseph Ki-Zerbo's *Federal African State*; Marc-Louis Ropivia's geopolitics of African regional integration; Makau wa Mutua's and Arthur Gakwandi's new political maps of Africa; Godfrey Mwakikagile's African Federal Government; Pelle Danabo's *Pan-African Federal State*; and Mueni wa Muiu's *Fundi wa Afrika* paradigm advocating the creation of a *Federation of African States* (FAS). What is common to these Africanist scholars is the fact that they all give precedence to African history, culture, traditions and values in their analysis.

Cheikh Anta Diop's Federal African State

In his book *Black Africa* (1987), the late Senegalese scholar and scientist Cheikh Anta Diop outlines the economic and cultural foundations of a *Federal African State*. Building on earlier research documenting the essential historical, cultural and linguistic unity of Africa, Diop advocates the adoption of a single African language for official, educational and cultural use throughout Africa. Furthermore—like Kwame Nkrumah and Muammar Gaddafi—Diop recommends the adoption of a strong African army and notes that sub-Saharan Africa's abundant natural, energy, and food resources can easily sustain a much larger population than the present one. According to the author, the *Federal African State* would include all of sub-Saharan Africa. Diop further argues that sub-Saharan Africa's hydroelectric potential is one of the greatest in the world. All these resources should be harnessed towards the processing of the continent's raw materials. The author further argues that Africa's import dependence could be drastically reduced if three key industries were developed: food processing (rice); clothing (cotton) and housing (cement and concrete). In the area of transport and communication, Diop suggests that priority should be given to the construction of tarmacked roads and the development first of civil aviation, then maritime transport, last railways. According to Diop, Africa's political, economic and cultural elements of a *Federal African State* would include: (1) a single African language; (2) the immediate political and economic unification of Anglophone, Francophone and Lusophone Africa; (3) the creation of a strong Pan-African army; (4) an elaborate industrial infrastructure (heavy industry and manufacturing) using Africa's abundant hydroelectric, solar and uranium resources; and (5) a policy encouraging population growth.⁶

It is noteworthy that the two blueprints of Nkrumah and Diop are infused by the same Pan-African ideal but differ in emphasis in a complementary fashion. Nkrumah provides a broad canvas and elaborate political, military and economic institutional infrastructure, while Diop fills in the policy details in terms of language and culture, population, energy, industry, agriculture and transport/communication. The fact that Nkrumah was first and

foremost a political man, and Diop essentially an academic and scientist, probably explains their different approaches.

Joseph Ki-Zerbo's *Federal African State*

The late, prominent Burkinabe historian Joseph Ki-Zerbo's concept of African unity is very similar to that of Kwame Nkrumah and Cheikh Anta Diop. Lamenting the fact that "the typical size of the African micro-state is generally too small for industrialization and public services purposes," Ki-Zerbo concludes that "Africans must create large, viable economic units predicated upon a degree of political integration." Ki-Zerbo then proposes a three-tier, pyramidal system of African citizenship—as well as a *Federal African State*—based on three main African languages (such as Bambara/Maninka/Dyula, Hausa and Ki-Swahili). This African state would be multiracial and multi ethnic, possibly based on the reconstitution of such large and culturally homogeneous medieval African states as the Mali Empire.⁷

Marc-Louis Ropivias's *Continental Federal State*

In his book *Geopolitics of African regional integration* (1994), Marc-Louis Ropvia proposes a new theoretical approach to federalism and economic and political integration in sub-Saharan Africa. According to Ropivia, the new African Federalism is based on two-state integrative units called "bi-state model," or "federative dyads" within which the two federated units are linked to each other by a federative link. This constitutes a gradual strategy to build federalism in sub-Saharan Africa, based on a two-state nucleus that is progressively expanded until it ultimately leads to a *Continental Federal State*.⁸

Makau Wa Mutua's new map of Africa

Starting from the observation that the "consequences of the failed postcolonial state are so destructive that radical solutions must now be contemplated to avert the wholesale destruction of groups of the African people," the Kenyan human rights scholar/activist Makau wa Mutua proposed in 1994 a restructuring of the map of Africa to construct 15 viable states, as opposed to the 55 mostly non-viable states existing today. The criteria for the creation of these new states include: historical factors (such as precolonial political systems and demographic patterns); ethnic similarities; and alliances based on cultural homogeneity and economic viability. Based on these criteria, Mutua's political map of Africa creates new countries by abolishing some and creating others. Thus, the new Republic of *Kusini* (meaning "South" in Ki-Swahili) would include South Africa, Namibia, Zimbabwe, Mozambique, Lesotho, Swaziland, and Malawi. The new *Egypt* would combine Egypt and northern Sudan. *Nubia* would bring together Kenya, Uganda, Tanzania and southern Sudan. Mali (an ancient medieval West African empire) would include *Mali*, Senegal, Guinea, Sierra Leone, Liberia, Gambia, Guinea-Bissau and Cape Verde. *Somalia* would absorb Djibouti, the Ogaden province of Ethiopia and Kenya's northern province. *Congo* would include ethnically similar people of the Central African Republic, the Congo Republic, the Democratic Republic of the Congo, Rwanda and Burundi; and *Ghana* would consist of Ghana, Cote d'Ivoire, Benin, Togo, Nigeria, Cameroon, Gabon, Equatorial Guinea, and Sao Tome & Principe. *Benin* would take in Chad, Burkina Faso and Niger. *Algeria* and *Angola* would remain the same, while *Libya* absorbs Tunisia, Morocco, Western Sahara, and Mauritania becomes Sahara. The new state of Kisiwani (which means "island" in Ki-Swahili) brings

together Madagascar, Mauritius, and the Comoros. Finally, Ethiopia and Eritrea constitute a federation.⁹

Godfrey Mwakikagile's *African Federal Government*

In his book *The Modern African State*, Godfrey Mwakikagile analyzes the disintegration and collapse of a number of failed states in Africa due to ethnic/racial conflict and civil war, including Liberia, Sierra Leone, Mauritania, Congo, Rwanda, Burundi, Somalia and Sudan. Based on this analysis, Mwakikagile concludes that the remedy to ethno-regional conflicts is *ethnic self-determination* leading to the creation of *ethno-states*—including those based on regional, cultural, and linguistic affinity—in place of the modern African state. In other words, the ongoing fragmentation of African countries along ethnic and regional lines “seems to point to one solution: reorganization of the modern African state along federal lines [the *African Federal Government*] with extensive devolution of power to the regions and ethno-states.”¹⁰

Arthur Gakwandi's new political map of Africa

In his chapter “Towards a Political Map of Africa” (1996), Arthur Gakwandi argues that in Africa, the colonially inherited borders are the source of the small size of the majority of African states, leading to poverty, dependency, non-development, and ethnic conflict. This analysis leads the author to propose a restructuring of Africa's political map based on the imaginary lines of broad cultural differentiation derived from “a broad coincidence between climatic and cultural zones.” According to Gakwandi, the new political map of Africa would achieve the following objectives: (1) eliminate land-locked countries and border disputes; (2) reunite African nations currently divided by the colonial borders; (3) provide all the new states with an adequate resource base and a critical mass of population that would form a solid basis for development; (4) ease existing intra-state tensions; (5) enhance Africa's standing in the world, as well as the confidence in Africa; and (6) reduce inter-ethnic tensions. Consequently, Gakwandi proposes a new political map of Africa made up of seven African super-states in each major African sub-region: Sahara Republic (North Africa); Senegambia (West Africa); Central Africa and Swahili Republic (Central Africa); Ethiopia (as is, plus Eritrea); Swahili Republic (includes East Africa and part of Central Africa); Mozambique (Southern Africa); and Madagascar (as is).¹¹

Pelle Danabo's *Pan-African Federal State*

In his thought-provoking dissertation on “Africana Democracy,” Pelle D. Danabo pulls together elements of the analyses of Diop, Mutua, Ropivia and Gakwandi into a coherent and all-inclusive ideological framework. To counter an ill-conceived and ineffectual Western liberal democracy, Danabo advocates the adoption of an *African Democracy* based on African values and traditions. Observing that the balkanization of Africa into more than 50 states is the root cause of Africa's current predicament, Danabo advocates the creation of a *Pan-African Federal State* (or *United African Federal Union*) based on a common Pan-African identity and society. However, Danabo fails to precisely identify the contours and territorial configuration of his proposed *Pan-African Federal State*.¹²

Mueni Wa Muiu's *Federation of African States*

In *Fundi wa Afrika* (co-authored with Guy Martin), Mueni wa Muiu introduces a new paradigm to study the African state. According to this paradigm, the current African predicament may be explained by the systematic destruction of African states and the dispossession, exploitation and marginalization of African people through successive historical processes—the trans-Atlantic slave trade, imperialism, colonialism and neo-colonialism/globalization. In this book, the authors argue that a new, viable and modern African state based on five sub-regional political entities—Mali, Kimit, Kush, Kongo and Zimbabwe—constituting a *Federation of African States* with a federal capital (Napata) and a rotating presidency, eventually leading to total political and economic integration, should be built on the functional remnants of indigenous African political systems and institutions and based on African values, traditions and culture.¹³

The continuing relevance of Pan-Africanism in the 21st century

Recently, some scholars—such as Mohammed Hadi Abdul-Ganli Boaji and Rita Kiki Edozie—have identified a third (and final) stage in the evolution of the Pan-Africanist ideal, namely the “Sixth Zone” incorporating the African Diaspora into the African Union project, thus acknowledging the universality of the African socio-cultural identity and of the Pan-African Nation as a political unit. In the mid-1960s, the United Nations Economic Commission for Africa (UN-ECA)—followed by the OAU in 1976—divided Africa into five (5) sub-regions, namely: North Africa, West Africa, Central Africa, Eastern Africa and Southern Africa. In 2005, the AU adopted Document EX.CL/164 [VI] defining the concept of “African Diaspora.” In 2006, article 3 (c) of the Constitutive Act of the AU [the “Diaspora Clause”] extended its competence to include—in addition to the five African sub-regions—the people of the African Diaspora, or “Sixth Zone.” The concept of African Diaspora refers to “people of African origin whose ancestors within historical memory came from Africa, but who are currently domiciled in other countries outside the continent and claim citizenship of those countries.” Similarly, the AU’s Economic, Social and Cultural Council (which became operational in 2005) allocated 20 seats to the Non-Governmental Organizations (NGOs) of the Diaspora, in addition to the 130 seats reserved for African NGOs. So far, only one African state (Ghana) has legally extended citizenship status to include people of the African Diaspora.¹⁴

In spite of the creation of the Organization of African Unity (1963) and of its successor organization The African Union (2001), Africa’s “Dream of Unity” has yet to become reality. Some of the major obstacles to the realization of this dream include: (1) the persistent regional and linguistic division of Africa—North vs. sub-Saharan Africa; Anglophone, Francophone and Lusophone Africa; (2) Western economic, political, and military influence/intervention in Africa aiming at creating further territorial divisions as a “divide-and-rule” strategy; (3) endemic armed conflict plaguing many African states, including: Cameroon; Central African Republic; Cote d’Ivoire; Democratic Republic of the Congo/DRC, Mali; Nigeria, Sudan and Somalia, resulting in as many “failed states;” (4) an acute deficit of African political leaders imbued with the Pan-Africanist ideal and genuinely dedicated to achieving the goal of African unity; (5) the fact that in its current iteration, Pan-Africanism is confined to African middle-class elites and has yet to reach the majority of African peoples; and (6) the lack of education aimed at mobilizing the African people behind the Pan-African project.

It is interesting to note in this regard that Cheikh Anta Diop's *Federal African State* and Mueni wa Muiu's *Federation of African States* each constitute an ideal blueprint and road map for eventually realizing the "Dream of Unity" and surmounting the five key obstacles identified above.

Notes

- 1 P. Olisanwuche Esedebe, *Pan-Africanism: The Idea & Movement, 1776–1991* (Howard University Press, 2nd edition., 1994); Guy Martin, *African Political Thought* (Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), Chapter 4, pp. 55–70.
- 2 Ashley D. Farmer, "Mothers of Pan-Africanism: Audley Moore & Dara Abubakari," *Women, Gender & Families of Color* 4 [2] (Fall 2016), pp. 274–295.
- 3 Kname Nkrumah, *Africa Must Unite* (International Publishers, 1970 [1963]).
- 4 Vincent Bakpetu Thompson, *Africa and Unity: The Evolution of Pan-Africanism* (Longman, 1969); Muammar Gaddafi, *The Green Book* (Ithaca Press, 2005); Guy Martin, *African Political Thought* (Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), pp. 115–119.
- 5 Acha Leke, "Reforming the African Union: the vital challenge of implementation," *Africa in Focus* (May 3, 2017) [[https://www.brookings.edu/blog/Africa in focus/2017/05/03/](https://www.brookings.edu/blog/Africa%20in%20focus/2017/05/03/)]; Keith Gottschalk, "The African Union & its Sub-regional Structures," *Journal of African Union Studies* 1 [1] (2012), pp. 1–35.
- 6 Cheikh Anta Diop, *Black Africa: The Economic & Cultural Basis for a Federated State* (Lawrence Hill Books/Africa World Press, revised edition, 1987); originally published in French as *Les Fondements Economiques & Culturels d'un Etat Federal d'Afrique Noire* (Presence Africaine, revised edition, 1974 [1960]).
- 7 Joseph Ki-Zerbo, *A Quand l'Afrique? Entretiens avec Remi Holenstein* (Editions de l'aube/Editions d'en bas, 2003), p. 45, 76–82.
- 8 Marc-Louis Ropivia, *Geopolitique de l'Integration en Afrique noire* (L'Harmattan, 1994).
- 9 Makau wa Mutua, "Redrawing the map along African Lines," *The Boston Globe* (September 22, 1994), p. 17.; Makau wa Mutua, "Why Redraw the Map of Africa: A Moral & Legal Inquiry," *Michigan Journal of International Law* 16 (Summer 1995), pp. 1113–1176.
- 10 Godfrey Mwakikagile, *The Modern African State: Quest for Transformation* (Nova Science Publishers, 2001), po. 195–205.
- 11 Arthur S. Gakwandi, "Towards a New Political Map of Africa," in Tajudeen Abdul-Raheem, ed., *Pan-Africanism: Politics, Economy & Social Change in the 21st Century* (New York University Press, 1996), pp. 181–190.
- 12 Pelle Darota Danabo, *From Africa of States to United Africa: Towards Africana Democracy*, PhD Dissertation, University of Kansas, 2008.
- 13 Mueni wa Muiu & Guy Martin, *A New Paradigm of the African State: Fundi wa Afrika* (Palgrave Macmillan, 2009).
- 14 Mohammed Hadi Abdul-Ganli Bolaji, "The African Union's Call for Global Pan-Africanism & the Ghana-Diaspora Relations in the 21st Century," *Journal of Black Studies* 16 [1] (January 2015), pp. 62–101; Rita Kiki Edozie, "The Sixth Zone: The African Diaspora & the African Union's Global Era Pan-Africanism," *Journal of African American Studies* 16 [2] (June 2012), pp. 268–299 [the quote is from p. 284].

References

- Abdul-Raheem, Tajudeen. ed. *Pan-Africanism: politics, Economy & Social Change in the Twenty-First Century*. New York: New York University Press, 1996.
- Bolaji, Abdul-Gandi and Hadi, Mohammed. "The African Union's Call for Global Pan-Africanism & the Ghana Diaspora Relations in the 21st Century," *Journal of Black Studies* 16 [1] (January 2015): 62–101.
- Danabo, Pelle Darota, *From Africa of States to United Africa: towards Africana Democracy*; Ph.D. dissertation, University of Kansas, 2008.
- Diop, Cheikh Anta. *Les Fondements Economiques & Culturels D'un Etat Federal d'Afrique Noire*. Paris: Presence Africaine, 1974 [1960].

- Diop, Cheikh Anta. *Black Africa: the Economic & Cultural Basis for a Federal State*. Chicago, IL & Trenton, NJ: Lawrence Hill Books/Africa World Press, revised edition, 1987.
- Edozie, Rita Kiki. "The Sixth Zone: the African Diaspora & the African Union's Global Era Pan-Africanism;" *Journal of African American Studies* 16 [2] (June 2012): 268–299.
- Esedebe, P. Olisanwuche, *Pan-Africanism: the Idea & Movement, 1776–1991*. Washington, DC: Howard University Press, 1991.
- Farmer, Ashley D. "Mothers of Pan-Africanism: audley Moore & Dana Abubakari;" *Women, Gender & Families of Color* 4 [2] (Fall 2016): 274–295.
- Gaddafi, Muammar. *The Green Book*. Reading, UK: Ithaca Press, 2005.
- Gakwandi, Arthus S. "Towards a New Political Map of Africa;" in Tajudeen Abdul-Raheem, edited by, *Pan-Africanism: 181–190* (New York: New York University Press, 1996).
- Gottschalk, Keith. "The African Union & Its Sub-regional Structures;" *Journal of African Union Studies* 1 [1] (2012): 1–35.
- Ki-Zerbo, Joseph. *A Quand l'Afrique? Entretiens Avec Rene Hollenstein*. Paris: Editions de l'aube/Editions d'en bas, 2003.
- Leke, Ache, "Reforming the African Union: the Vital Challenge to Implementation;" *Africa in Focus* (May 3, 2017) [www.brookings.edu/blog/AfricanFocus/2017/05/03].
- Martin, Guy. *African Political Thought*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012.
- Muiu, Mueni wa and Martin, Guy. *A New Paradigm of the African State: fundi Wa Afrika*. New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2009.
- Mutua, Makau wa. "Redrawing the Map along African Lines;" *The Boston Globe* (September 22, 1994): 17.
- Mutua, Makau wa. "Why Redraw the Map of Africa: A Moral & Legal Inquiry;" *Michigan Journal of International Law* 16 (Summer 1995): 1113–1176.
- Mwakikagile, Godfrey. *The Modern African State: quest for Transformation*. Huntington, NY: Nova Science Publishers, 2001.
- Nkrumah, Kwame. *Africa Must Unite*. New York: International Publishers, 1970 [1963].
- Ropivia, Marc-Louis. *Geopolitique De l'Integration En Afrique Noire*. Paris: L'Harmattan, 1994.
- Thompson, Vincent Bakpetu. *Africa and Unity: the Evolution of Pan-Africanism*. London: Longman, 1969.

Index

- Aba Women's Riot (1929) 161–162
 Abbas, Hakima 343, 346
 Abeokuta Women's Union (AWU) 162, 495–496
 abolitionism 290–292
 Aborigines' Rights Protection Society (ARPS) 292–293
 Abraham Lincoln Brigade 75
 Abubakari, Dara 261
 Accra, Ghana 510–511
 Ackah, William 48–55
Action Afrique 115
 Adams, Anne V. 392, 393
Address to the Nations of the World 235–236
 Adeleke, Tunde 190–191
 Adi, Hakim: black internationalism 69; decolonization 112, 117; definition of Pan-Africanism 231–232, 375; Pan-African Congresses 191–192, 196, 197, 200; response to *Ethiopia Unbound* 293; women's role 340
 Africa 70 (music band) 492, 493, 498, 500
Africa Report 387
 African Association 192; *see also* Pan-African Association (PAA)
 African Blood Brotherhood (ABB) 94
 African Charter on Human and People's Rights (1981) 178, 238, 336
 African Continental Free Trade Area (ACFTA) 381
African Diaspora, The 394–395
African Experience, The 408
 African LGBTI Manifesto (2010) 345
 African Liberation Committee (ALC) 317, 321–322
 African Liberation Day (ALD) 77, 258, 259–260
 African Liberation Support Committee (ALSC) 77
 African Methodist Episcopal (AME) Church 331–332
 African National Congress (ANC) 42, 82, 143, and Africanists 138–139; rise of anti-colonialism 321, 322, 325, 326, 360
 African Orthodox Church 93
 African Personality concept 291–292, 296, 297, 499
 African Renaissance concept 42–43
 African Union (AU) 41, 66; Agenda 2063 54, 319; institutionalization of Pan-Africanism 377–380, 381, 529–530; neo-colonialism 523–524; and women in Africa 335–336; *see also* Organization of African Unity (OAU)
 African/African American relationship 456–459
 Africanization: historical 125–129; normative 129–133
 Afrobeat music 489–491; audio intersectionality and complexities of Africanisms 498–499; gendering 494–497; race, identity, and aesthetics formations 491–494
 Afro-Caribbean Liberation Movement (ACLM) 223–224
Afrocentric Manifesto, An 152
Afrocentric World Review 148
 Afrocentricity 147–148; and academia 149–151, 155–157; and agency reduction formation 151, 152, 154; and cultural terrorism 151–152; culture and historiography 153–157; and historical experience 148–149; *see also* Angelou, Maya
Afrofem 254
 Afro-futurism 486–487
 Agawu, Kofi 499
 Agbebi, Majola 292
 agency reduction formation 151, 152, 154
 Ahlman, Jeffrey 334
 Ahmad, Muhammad 436–437
 aid-giving 102–109, 365
 Aidoo, Ama Ata 340, 390, 391
 Akufo-Addo, Nana Addo Dankwa 51
 All-African People's Conference (1958) 76, 296–297, 321, 333
 All-African Women's Conference (AAWC) 258, 333
 American Colonization Society (ACS) 91, 291
 American Committee on Africa (ACOA) 434
 American Labor Party (ALP) 82

- American Negro Academy (ANA) 189
 American Negro Labor Congress (ANLC) 77–78
 American Society of African Culture (AMSAC) 434
 Amoah-Ramey, Nana 490
Ancestors 425–426
Ancient Egyptian Philosophers 157
 Anderson, Benedict 89
 Anderson, Carol 281
 Anderson, Patrick 201
 Andrews, Kehinde 113
 Angelou, Maya 449–450; African cultural roots 453–456; and Africans' reception of African Americans 456–459; birth of revolutionary consciousness 450–452; embracing Pan-Africanism 40, 452–453; and Malcolm X 459–460
 Angola 317, 322
 anti-capitalism 70, 77–79, 97, 203
 anti-colonialism 73–74; in France 250; social movements 359–363; and W.E.B. Du Bois 193; women's role 161–163; *see also* southern Africa
 anti-colonialism
 Antigua 224
 anti-imperialism 71–72, 363, 439
 Anti-Imperialist League 77–78
 anti-sexism 79–81
 anti-war activism 81–83
 anti-white supremacy 74–77
 Anyidoho, Kofi 394
 apartheid 42, 82–83, 138, 223–225, 323–324
Appeal to the World 280, 282
 Appiah, Kwame Anthony 156, 318, 406
 Armah, Ayi Kwei 42, 390, 392
Arson and Cold Lace 443
 Asante, Molefi Kete 147–157
 Ashwood Garvey, Amy 39, 49, 75, 294
 Association of African Women for Research and Development (AAWORD) 338–339
 Atlantic Charter (1941) 138
 audio intersectionality 490–491, 498–499
 Augusto, Geri 260, 261–262, 263
 Awoonor, Kofi 390
 Ayivor, Kwame 405
 Azikiwe, Nnamdi 41, 295

 Bailey, Trenton 483
 Baker, Ella 79
 Balandier, Georges 114
 Baldwin, James 350
 Bambaataa, Afrika 486, 505–506, 508
 Bandung Conference (1955) 70, 73–74, 115–116
 Baraka, Amiri 433–434
 Barbados 221, 222, 224–225
 Barchiesi, Franco 355–367
Batouala 419
 Bayen, Malaku 275, 276, 278–279
 Behrens, K.G. 177, 178
 Belgian Royal Museum for Central Africa 119–120
 Belgium 117–120
 Berlin Conference (1885) 37–38, 42
 Bermuda 222
 Bethune, Mary McLeod 39
 Biko, Steve 82, 97, 136, 139, 141, 142, 143, 363
 Bishop, Maurice 225
Black Africa 530
 black arts movement (BAM) 433–435; envisioning the black liberation struggle 441–445; revolutionary nationalism 435–441
 Black Arts Repertoire Theatre/School (BARTS) 434
Black Atlantic, The 402, 490, 492
 black consciousness: and Africanists 138–139; after Soweto 142–143; confronting the state 141–142; early struggles 136–138; open years 139–141, 363; *see also* black arts movement (BAM)
Black Dialogue 440–441
 black internationalism 69–71; anti-capitalism and socialism 77–79; anti-colonialism and self-determination 73–74; anti-imperialism and revolutionary transformation 71–72; anti-sexism and radical black humanism 79–81; anti-war and durable peace 81–83; anti-white supremacy and continental unity 74–77; and black arts movement (BAM) 436–437
 Black Lives Matter 50
 black Marxism 195, 200, 202, 261
Black Marxism 187
Black Mass 437
 black nationalism 89–90; and black arts movement (BAM) 435–436; and black power 95–98, 222, 259, 261; emigrationism 91–93; modern forms 98–99; and music 482; outlayers/maroons 90–91; radicalism 94; and religion 94–95; *see also* anti-colonialism
Black Orpheus 390, 394
 Black Panther Party 96, 97–98, 259, 261, 435
 Black People's Convention (BPC) 141
 black power 95–98, 221–222, 258–260
Black Reconstruction 277
Black Theology and Black Power 140
 Blessol, Gathoni 347
 Blouin, Andrée 334
 Blyden, Edward Wilmot 93, 217, 291–292, 293
 Boers 137
Bois d'Ebène 421–422
 Botswana 179
 Boyce Davies, Carol 330
 Brathwaite, Kamau 425–426
 Brazil 151
 Briggs, Cyril 94
 British Guiana 219

- Brizuela-Garcia, Esperanza 125–133
 Brown, James 479–480, 497
 Brown, Julian 142
 Brown, Roosevelt 223, 226
 Brown, Wendy 166
 Burden-Stelly, Charisse 69–83
Burn, Baby, Burn 442–443
 Burnham, Forbes 97, 224
 Bush, Ruth 394
 Buxe, Carl 263
- Cabral, Amílcar 302–303; anti-imperialism 71, 72, 77; Pan-African pragmatism 310–311; return to the source 303–305; revolutionary humanism 308–310; theories of culture 305–308
Cahier d'un Retour au Pays Natal 423–424
 Camminga, B. 175, 176
 Campbell, Grace 70
 Campbell, Robert 217–218
 Cape Verde 308, 310, 311
 capitalism 65, 77–79, 360
 Caribbean: anti-apartheid activity 223–225; black power movement 221–222; case for reparations 226–227; early Pan-Africanism 216–217; labor strikes 75; nineteenth century repatriationists 217–218; and Pan-African Association (PAA) 218; Pan-African Congresses 223, 226; Rastafarian movement 220; solidarity with Ethiopia 220–221; and Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) 218–220; *see also* Caribbean literature
Caribbean Discourse 427
 Caribbean literature: cultural Pan-Africanism 424–430; historical perspectives 419–424
Caribbean Middlebrow 392–393
 Caribbean Reparations Commission (CRC) 227
 CARICOM (Caribbean Community) 227
 Carmichael, Stokely 96, 222, 298
 Casablanca Group 102, 105, 110, 528
 Casely Hayford, Adelaide 331
 Casely Hayford, J.E. 292–294, 331
Ceddo 412–413
 Center for Black Education (CBE) 260
 Césaire, Aimé 112, 114–116, 117, 120–121, 422–424
 Chad 107
Chaka 401
 Chaka Zulu legend 401–402; Chaka as savior 405–407; Isanusi as source of power 407–408; profiling the hero 403–405; similarities with Sundiata Keita 408–411
Challenger 69
 Chernoff, John Miller 480
Chicago Defender 279
Chimurenga 394
 China 54, 108
 Christianity 37, 38, 93, 127, 174, 350–351
Christianity, Islam and the Negro Race 292
 Church Missionary Society (CMS) 291
 circulatoriness 506
 Civil Rights Act (USA, 1964) 40
 Civil Rights Congress (CRC) 80
 civil rights movement (USA) 39–40, 94, 477
 civil society, meaning of 355–356, 357, 364–365
 Civil War (USA, 1861–1865) 92
 class struggle 203, 261, 277
 Claude, Judy 261–262
 Claus, Hugo 118
 Cleneagles Accord (1977) 224
 Clinton, George 483–486
 Cold War (1947–1991) 81, 318, 381, 434
 colonialism: and African feminism 160–163; anti-blackness 359; Berlin Conference (1885) 37–38; colonial continuity 53, 380; and France 251–252; Pan-African Congresses 39, 236–237; sexuality and gender 173; South Africa 136–137; *see also* anti-colonialism; decolonization; slavery; southern Africa
 anti-colonialism
 Coltrane, John 469
 Combahee River Collective (CRC) 81
Comes the Voyager at Last 390
 Committee for the Defense of the Black Race (CDRN) 252–253, 295
 communism 38–39
 Communist Party of South Africa 138
 CONCORD 109
 Cone, James 139–140
 Confédération Générale du Travail (CGT) 253
 Conference of Independent African States (1958) 76, 116
 Congo 117–118, 322–323, 362
 Congress Alliance (South Africa) 138–139
 Congress for Racial Equality 96
 Congresses of Black Artists and Writers 115, 116, 117, 254
 Constitutive Act (2000) 378
 contemporary relevance *see* twenty-first century, relevance in
 continental unity 74–77
 Convention People's Party (CPP) 296, 332
Conversation of Races, The 189
 Cooke, Marvel 79
 Cooks, Carlos 94
 Cooper, Annie 39
 Cooper, Esther V. 75, 79
 Cooper, Fred 361
 Cooper, Saths 141
 Corey-Boulet, R. 172
 Cotonou Agreement (2000–2020) 106, 110
 Council on African Affairs (CAA) 82
 Cox, Oliver Cromwell 71
 cricket 224–225
Crisis, The 194, 201, 239, 241, 274, 276, 420

- Crummell, Alexander 37, 93
Crusader, The 94
 Cuba 77
 Cuffe, Paul 91
 Cugoana, Ottobah 290, 509
 Cultural Association for Women of African Heritage (CAWAH) 449–450, 452
 culture *see* black arts movement (BAM); national culture
 Cummings-John, Constance Agatha 332–333
 Currier, A. 176
- Da Silva, Denise Ferreira 357
 Damas, Léon-Gontran 434
 Danabo, Pelle 532
 dancing 472–473
 Davis, Miles 478
 de Gaulle, Macmillan 114
De Standaard 118
 decolonization 112–113, 234; Cabralism 303–305, 307; contemporary 117–120; and feminism 164–165; late colonial states 113–115; national cultures of 115–117
Decolonization of Algiers 113
Decolonizing the Republic 253
 definition 231–232, 527
 definition, of Pan-Africanism 58–60
 Delany, Martin 51, 92, 217
 Democratic Republic of Congo (DRC) 101, 108, 119
 democratic socialism 198, 201, 202–203
 Desta, Kentiba Gebru 274, 275
 Dhawan, Nikita 165
 dialectical decolonization 307
 diaspora, African: and African Union (AU) 41, 533; continental unity 76; literary Pan-Africanism 392, 394, 396–397; and Pan-African Congresses 38–39; perspectives on Africa 190–191; politics of return 51–52, 505; slavery 37; Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) 218–220; and W.E.B. Du Bois 201–202; and women 39, 40, 264, 265; *see also* Caribbean; Europe diaspora
 Dibango, Manu 493
Dilemma of a Ghost 390
 Diop, Alioune 115, 116
 Diop, Cheik Anta 126, 153, 155, 530–531, 534
 Diouf, Mamadou 356
Discourse on Colonialism 115
 Dlamini-Zuma, Nkosazana 336
 Dominica 220
 Douglas, Rosie 222
 Douglass, Frederick 92
 Dove Danquah, Mabel 332
 Drake, John Gibbs St. Clair 281
 Dread Act (1974) 220
 Drew Ali, Noble 94
 drumming 471–472, 473
 Du Bois, Shirley 39, 284
 Du Bois, W.E.B.: Afrocentricity 148; anti-colonialism 318; background 187–188, 273–274; black internationalism 80, 81–82; concept of race 233; death and legacy 284–285; interest in Ethiopia 273, 274–276, 279–280; Italo-Ethiopian War (1935–1937) 276–279; literature 420; national culture 241; Pan-African Congresses 38–39, 191–199, 236–237; pioneering Pan-Negroism 189–191; revolutionary Pan-Africanism 199–203, 434; Sylvia Pankhurst and Eritrea 280–284
 Dubié, Josy 118–119
Dusk of Dawn 202, 233
- Earth, Wind & Fire 482–483
 East Sisterhood 258
 Easton Busye, Mabel 127
 Economic Community of West African States (ECOWAS) 298
 Economic Freedom Fighters (EEF) 318, 326
 economy: aid-giving 102–109, 365; and colonialism 360–361; economic integration 528–529; and exploitation 42, 523; structural adjustment 363–366; *see also* political economy
 Eden, Anthony 221
 Edmondson, Belinda 392–393
 education 40–41, 129, 519–523
 Egypt 126, 155, 218, 453–454
 Egypt 80 (music band) 494, 498
 Eisenhower, Dwight 283
 Ekine, Sokari 175, 346, 348
 Ekpo, Dennis 318
 elites, African 103–104
 el-Kenz, Ali 356
 Ellis, Stephen 355, 356
 emigrationism 91–93
Emmanuel Appadocca 392–393
Encyclopedia Africana 194, 276–277, 284
Encyclopedia of African American Culture and History 392
Epic of Sundiata Keita 401
 epistemicide 129
 Epprecht, M. 173, 179
 Equiano, Olaudah 290, 509
 Eritrea 280, 281–282
 Esedebe, Peter Olisanwuche 2, 59, 191, 192, 491–492
 Ethiopia: Italo-Ethiopian War (1935–1937) 75, 220–221, 276–279; social movements 360, 363; Sylvia Pankhurst and Eritrea 280–284; W.E.B. Du Bois' interest in 273, 274–276, 279–280, 284–285
Ethiopia Unbound 293
 Ethiopian Order in Council (1934) 221
Ethiopian Stories 387–388

- Ethiopian World Federation (EWF) 278–279
ethno-nationalism 89, 292; *see also* black nationalism
Europe, James Reese 474
Europe diaspora 231; and historiography 240–241; and Pan-African Congresses 235–240; and philosophy of Pan-Africanism 232–235
European Commission 107
European Development Fund (EDF) 106
European Economic Community (EEC) 106
European Union (EU): neo-colonialism 102, 106; securitization of development 106–109
Even the Stars Look Lonesome 460
evolution, of Pan-Africanism 35–36, 60–62, 527–528; Berlin Conference (1885) 37–38; days of slavery 36–37; early organizations 41; meaning and philosophy 231–235, 373–375; Pan-African Congresses 38–39; towards an African renaissance 42–43; universities and education 40–41; women's role 39–40
- Faduma, Orishatukeh 292
Faki, Moussa 380
Falola, Toyin 132
Fanon, Frantz: on anti-blackness 357; anti-colonialism 320–321, 358; decolonization 115, 116, 117, 302, 303; national culture 309; neo-colonialism 101, 104–105, 359, 520, 524; Pan-African consciousness 380
Fanti Confederation 292
Fanti Customary Law 293
Fard Muhammad, W.D. 95
Farmer, Ashley D. 258–268
Farrakhan, Louis 98
fascism 75, 76–77
Favors, Jo Ann 261–262
federal African states 530–531
Fela Kuti: Music is the Weapon 491
Fellowship of Affirming Ministries, (TFAM) 350–351
feminism, African 159–160; and black humanism 81; in France 254–255; historical expressions and debates 160–163; major contemporary debates 163–167; and United Nations (UN) 337–338
Ferguson, Roderick 498
Ferreira, Ana Monteiro 152, 153–154
Finding Fela 490
Flewellen, Kathy 261–262
Fodeba, Keita 117
Fonfrede, Henri 113
Ford, Henry 75
Ford, James W. 71, 72
Foreign Affairs 277, 278
foreign corporations 105
foreign direct investment (FDI) 103, 107
Foreign Enlistment Act (1870) 221
Forum for African Women Educationalists (FAWE) 339
France 249–250; decolonization 113; interwar years 250–253, 294–295; neo-colonialism 37, 53, 107–108; twenty-first century 253–256
Franklin, Aretha 482
free movement 524
Free South Africa Movement 83
Freeman, Don 437
From Superman to Man 419
Front for the Liberation of Mozambique (FREMILO) 317, 321, 324–325
Funk 476
funk music 476; Earth, Wind & Fire 482–483; and hip hop 486–487; James Brown 479–480; *Mothership Connection* 483–486; similarities with jazz 478–479; Sly & the Family Stone 480–482
Funkstone, Fredi 509, 510, 511
- Gaddafi, Muammar 529
Gairy, Eric 223
Gakwandi, Arthur 532
Gambia 172–173, 175
Garvey, Amy *see* Ashwood Garvey, Amy
Garvey, Marcus: black consciousness 137–138, 430; death 279; Pan-African Congresses 38–39; poems 419–420; and religion 349; Universal Negro Improvement Association (UNIA) 49, 93, 94, 218–220, 294–295; views on France 253, 255
Garvin, Vicki 457
Gates, Henry Louis 406
Gbadegesin, Segun 201
Gebrekidan, Fikru Negash 273–285
Geiss, Imanuel 289, 290, 298, 403
gender *see* LGBTQI women's role
gender violence 164–165
General History of Africa 278
Germain, Félix 253
Germany 37, 236
Ghana: highlife music 495; independence 75, 296–297; legacy of Nkrumah 298–299; literature 391; Mary Angelou's experience of 455–459; politics of return 51; *see also* Gold Coast
Ghariokwu, Lemi 492, 494, 500
Gilbert, Zach 443
Gillespie, Dizzy 478
Gilroy, Paul 402, 490, 492
Glissant, Édouard 427
glocalization 506, 509
Goddeeris, Idesbald 118
go-go music 486–487
Gold Coast 292–294, 296; *see also* Ghana
Gonsalves, Ralph 227
Gordon, Lewis 157
Gouverneurs de la Rosée 427–429

- Graft-Johnson, J.W. de 294
 Great Britain: colonization of South Africa 136–137; and Eritrea 281; Italo-Ethiopian War (1935–1937) 221; Pan-African organizations 294
 Grenada 221
 Grilli, Matteo 289–299
 griots 35
 Gross, Sally 177
 Gruesser, John Cullen 402
Guardian, The 283
 Guillén, Nicolás 424–425
 Guinea 297
 Guinea Coast 470
 Guinea-Bissau 308, 310, 311
 Guyana 224
 Gwekwerere, Tavengwa 317–328
- Haiti 52, 78, 216, 277
 Haitian Revolution (1791–1804) 91, 216, 232
 Halisi, C.R.D. 143
 Hall, Stuart 481–482
 Hames, M. 173
 Hamilton, Carolyn 406
 Harlem, New York 51, 94, 200, 419
 Harrison, Hubert 70, 77–79
 Hartman, Saidiya 358
 Harvard University 193
 Hayes-Light, Jay 177
 Haywood, Harry 78
 Head, Bessie 137, 340
 Hendrickson, Joy 250
 Hendrix, Jimi 481
 Herdeck, Donald E. 401, 419
 Hester, Karlton E. 465–474
 highlife music 490, 494–495
 Hill, Alberta 258
 Hill, Robert A. 387–388, 393
 Hill, Sylvia 261, 266
 hip hop music 504; Accra's influence on 510–511; and Afro-futurism 486–487; London and the PLZ rap group 509–510; New York's influence on 507–508; Pan-African exchanges 508–509; and transnational black culture 504–507
 historiography 125–129, 130, 155
 Historically Black Colleges and Universities (HBCU) 40
History of the Voice 426
 HIV/AIDS 337
 Hofmeyr, Isabel 394
 Holderness, Etna 331
 homosexuality *see* LGBTQI
 Hoover, J. Edgar 98
 Hopkinson, Natalie 487
Horizon, The 194
 Horn of Africa 274, 283
 Horne, Gerald 69–83, 202
- Horsthemke, Kai 131–132
 Horton, Beale 292
 Houénou, Tovalou 294–295
 Howard University 40
 Howarth, D.R. 141
 Howe, Stephen 156
 Hubbard, Maryinez 307
 Hudson-Weems, Clenora 149
Humo 118
 Hunt, Ida Gibbs 198
 Hunton, Alphaeus 74, 82
- identity 49–51, 391
 imperialism 71–72, 252
 Imru, Leul Ras 282
In the Castle of My Skin 426–427
 Ingram, Rosa Lee 80
 institutionalization, of Pan-Africanism: African Union (AU) 377–380, 381, 529–530; Africa's leadership deficit 381; AU reforms and Pan-Africanism prospects 379–380; forging a Pan-African consciousness 380–382; forming a union government 378–379; Organization of African Unity (OAU) 375–377, 381, 529; revival of Pan-African thinking 373–375
 International African Friends of Abyssinia (IAFA) 294
 International Colonial Institute 113
 International League Against Racism and Antisemitism (LICRA) 255
 International Monetary Fund (IMF) 42, 107, 364
Interpreters, The 390, 396
 intersexuality 177–178, 179
 investment performance 65
Invisible Jim Crow 152
 Isaacman, Allen 126–127
 Islam 127, 174, 437
Italian Colonialism and Resistances to Empire 388
 Italy 220–221
 Izsadore, Sandra 491, 497
 Izugbara, C.O. 174, 179
- Jackson, David 485–486
 Jackson, Jesse 98
 Jacques Garvey, Amy 49
 Jamaica 218, 220, 222
 James, C.L.R. 75, 223, 224, 260
 James, Leslie 115
 Japan 63
 Jay-Z 507, 508–509
 jazz music 465–466; and African regional styles 469–471; influences from African music 467–469; and Malcolm X 477–478; as mirror of human consciousness 474; reflection of pure democracy 466–467; reflections and retentions 471–473; and sacred African myth 473–474; similarities with funk 478–479

Index

- Jennings, Christian 132
 Jim Crow laws 75, 78
 Jjuuko, Adrian 344
 Johnson, Alicia 443–444
 Johnson, Cheryl 162
 Johnson, Lois J. 261
 Jones, Claudia 79
 Jones, LeRoi 480
 Jordan, June 53–54
 Joseph–Gabriel, Annette K. 249–256
Journal of Scientific Studies 284
Journal of Black Studies 149
- Kabila, Joseph 108
 Kabimba, Wynter 344
 Kagame Panel Report 379–380
 Kaggwa, Julius 177, 179
 Kang'ata, Irungu 348
 Karenga, Maulana 149, 152, 153, 436
 Kaunda, Kenneth 141, 323–324
 Keaton, Trica 255–256
 Kéita, Aoua 334
 Keita, Maghan 153, 321
 Kellogg–Briand Pact (1928) 75
 Kennedy, Ellen 387
 Kenya 161, 163, 523
 Kerr–Ritchie, Jeffrey 392
 Keto, C. Tsehloane 149
 Kgositsile, Keorapetse 441
 Kgware, Winnie 141
 Khapoya, Vincent B. 408
 Khatak, Saba 164
 King Jr., Martin Luther 95, 350, 442, 449, 460
 Kiswahili language 89
 Ki-Zerbo, Joseph 531
 Klinken, Adrian van 343–351
 knowledge systems 129–133
 Korean War (1950–1953) 80
 Koselleck, R. 114
 Kouyaté, Tiémoho Garan 295
 Ku Klux Klan (KKK) 75, 93
 Kumavie, Delia 340
 Kuti, Fela Anikulapo 480, 489–491; and audio
 intersectionality 498–499; gendering Afrobeat
 494–497; race, identity, and aesthetics
 formations 491–494
 Kuti, Funmilayo Anikulapo 491, 494, 495–496
- La Voix des Nègres* 252–253
 labor exploitation 77–78, 79, 195, 366
 Lagos Market Women's Association (LMWA) 162
 Lamming, George 426–427
 land, significance of 166–167
 Langan, Mark 101–110
 Langley, J. Ayodele 289, 291, 293, 297
 languages 426–427, 520
 Lawson, James R. 283
- Le Roux, Andre 129
 leadership deficit 381
 League Against Imperialism 71
 League of Nations 197–198, 239
 Lefkowitz, Mary 156
 Lembede, Anton 138
Les Continents 250–252
 Lewis, David Levering 188, 194, 196, 197, 198,
 201, 273
 Lewis, Desiree 159, 173
 LGBTQI 171–172; activism 179–180, 349–350;
 black memory and religious thought 349–351;
 history of sexual and gender diversities
 172–173; human rights and protections
 177–178; intersex 177–178; literature overview
 172, 346; ontologies and sex/gender diversities
 174; persecution and homophobia 175–177,
 343–345; queer feminism 165–166; reclaiming
 queer Africa 345–349; understanding categories
 of 173–174
 Liacouras, Peter 156
 liberation: black women's 267; decolonization
 117; economic 58, 346; emancipation 252–253;
 movements 77; and Organization of African
 Unity (OAU) 376; politics of 52–54, 60
Liberator 437, 439
 Liberia 217, 219, 277, 291
 Libya 378–379
 Lincoln University 40–41
Literary Garveyism 419
Literary Pan-Africanism 389–391, 393, 402
 literature, overview 387–397, 402–403; *see also*
 Angelou, Maya; black arts movement (BAM);
 Caribbean literature; Chaka Zulu legend;
 Sundiata Keita legend
 Locke, Alain 251, 252, 255, 275
 Lodge, Tom 138
 London 509–510
 Long, Wahbie 131
 Long, Worth 443
Long March, The 443–444
 Lott, Tommy 189
 Louverture, Toussaint 429–430
 Lowndes County Freedom Organization
 (LCFO) 96
 Lubeck, Paul 366
 Lumumba, Patrice 39, 101, 112, 114–115; and
 Congo 322, 422; legacy of 117, 118, 119, 120
 Lynch, Hollis R. 291
 Lynch, I. 172
- MacMillan, Hugh 325
 Macqueen, Ian 136–143
 Magubane, Makhosetwe 193
 Make, Vusi 452–453
 Makgoba, Malegapuru William 128
 Malan, Daniel François 82

- Malawi 175
 Malcolm X 40, 41, 95, 115, 459–460, 477–478
 Mali 107
 Malisa, Mark 35–43
 Mama, Amina 343
 Mamdani, Mahmood 356
 Mandela, Nelson 42, 139, 143, 225
 Mangesho, Peter 127–128
 Maputo Protocol 336
 Marable, Manning 194, 195, 200, 201, 202
 Maran, René 251–252, 419
 Marcus, Griel 481
 Marcuse, Herbert 309, 310
 Maree, D.J.F. 172
 market failures 63
 maroons 90–91, 471
 Martin, Guy 527–534
 Martin, Tony 216, 419
 Martin-Cissé, Jeanne 333, 334
 Marvin X 442–443
 Marxism 38, 94, 200, 201, 203
 Marxist-Leninism 77, 97
 Masaka, Dennis 129
 Matebeni, Zethu 171–180, 346
 Mau Mau Uprising (1952–1960) 161
 Mavima, Shingi 391–392
 Maxeke, Charlotte 331–332
 Mayfield, Julian 97
 Mazama, Ama 149, 153
 Mazarire, Gerald C. 324
 Mazrui, Ali 278, 318, 403
 M'Baye, Babacar 393–394, 401–415
 Mbeki, Thabo 42
 Mbembe, Achille 357
 Mboukou, Alexandre 190
 McAlister, Melani 437
 McAllister, J. 179
 McCarthyism 80, 283, 434
 McEachrane, Michael 231–241
 McGuire, George Alexander 93
 McLaren, Joseph 394–395
 Memoire Coloniale et Lutte contre les
 Discriminations (CMCLD) 119, 120
 Mensah Sarbah, John 292–293
 Michel, Louis 118
 Middle Passage 358, 359
 migration 106–107, 109, 126–127, 518, 519
 Miike, Yoshitaka 157
 Mikell, Gwendolyn 159–160
 Million Family March (2000) 98
 Million Man March (1995) 98
 Mills, Charles 71
 Missedja, Thelma Quardey 35–43
 missionary activity 331
 Moe, Louise 374–375
 Mofolo, Thomas 401, 403–404, 407, 410
 Moges, Abu Girma 57–68
 Mogherini, Federica 108–109
 Mokoape, Aubrey 142
 Mongella, Gertrude 336
 Monro, Surya 171–180
 Monrovia Group 105
Moon, The 194
 Moore, Basil 139–140
 Moore, Carlos 497
 Moore, Harry T. 80
 Moorish Science Temple of America (MSTA) 94
 Morel, E.D. 251
 Morgan, R. 174
 Morrison, Toni 39
Mothership Connection 483–486
 Mozambique 142, 321–322, 324
 Muchie, Mammo 57–68
 Mudimbe-Boyi, Elisabeth 387–388
 Mugabe, Robert 343–344
 Muhammad, Elijah 95
 Muiu, Muena wa 517–524, 533, 534
 Mullen, Bill V. 202
 Mungumbe, Clinarete 324–325
 Muñoz, José Esteban 498
 Murithi, Tim 373–383
 Mus, Paul 114
 music *see* funk music; hip hop music; jazz music;
 Kuti, Fela Anikulapo
 Mutua, Makau wa 531–532
 Mwakikagile, Godfrey 532
 Mwambene, L. 175
 Mwasi: Collectif afroféministe 254–255, 256
 Mwikya, Kenne 347
 Myers, Linda James 149
 Mzamane, M.V. 141

 Nardel, Jane 69
 Nation of Islam (NOI) 95, 98, 437
 National Association for the Advancement of
 Colored People (NAACP) 194, 236, 276, 277,
 280, 281–282
 National Association of Colored Women
 (NACW) 198
 National Congress of British West Africa
 (NCBWA) 289, 293–294, 360
 national culture 116–117, 217; Afrocentricity
 151–157; black arts movement (BAM) 436;
 Cabral's theories 304–308
 National Institute for Medical Research Amani
 Hill Station 128
 National Joint Action Committee (NJAC) 222
 National Liberation Front of Angola (FNLA) 317,
 322, 323
 National Negro Labor Council (NNLC) 80
Native Life in South Africa 137
 Ndashe, S. 179
 Ndjio, Basile 344, 365
 Neal, Larry 437

Index

- Negritude Movement 116, 153, 249, 289, 423–424
- Negro, The* 194–195, 201, 274
- Negro Digest* 443
- Negro Welfare Cultural and Social Association (NWCSEA) 221
- Negro World* 49, 93, 219, 253, 419–420
- neo-colonialism 73, 101–102; Africa-EU relations and securitization of development 106–109; as concept and form of North-South relations 102–106; freedom of movement 523–524
- Neo-Colonialism: The Last Stage of Imperialism* 101, 102
- neoliberalism 164, 367
- Network: A Pan-African Women's Forum* 335
- New Africa* 281
- New York City 507–508
- New York Times* 279
- Newton, Huey P. 72
- Ngugi, Mukoma wa 396
- Niagara Movement 194
- Niane, Djibril Tamsir 401
- Niger Delta 365
- Niger Valley 217
- Nigeria 161–162, 174, 348, 493–494
- Nigeria 70 (music band) 497
- Nigerian Progress Union (NPU) 294
- Nkabinde, Z. 174
- Nkomo, Joshua 224
- Nkrumah, Kwame: Afrocentricity 148; black internationalism 75–76; federal African states 530–531; Ghana's independence 456; and Lincoln University 40–41; neo-colonialism 73, 101–106, 109, 110; southern Africa 320, 321; uniting Africa 529; West Africa 289–290, 295–299
- non-alignment 74
- non-governmental organizations (NGOs) 109, 339, 365
- North American Region Planning Conference (1973) 261
- North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) 76, 81
- Nyansapo Festival 255
- Nyanzi, Stella 347
- Nyerere, Julius 101, 105, 298, 322
- Obenga, Theophile 155
- Odamtten, Harry Nii Koney 503–512
- Oduatey-Kodjoe, W. 59
- Ogbar, Jeffrey O.G. 89–99
- Okech, A. 180
- Okunoye, Oyeniyi 391
- Olaniyan, Tejumala 490, 494
- Olaoluwa, S. 174
- O'Neal, Shawn 489–500
- Onyango, Rosemary 477
- Operation Artemis (2003) 108
- Opportunity: Journal of Negro Life* 251
- oral history 35
- Organisation for Refuge, Asylum, and Migration (ORAM) 176
- Organization of African Unity (OAU): apartheid 224; black internationalism 66, 75, 76; case for reparations 226; economic rights 238; founding of 41, 239, 284; institutionalization of Pan-Africanism 375–377, 381, 529; and Kwame Nkrumah 297–298; and southern Africa 317, 321, 460; *see also* African Union (AU)
- Organization of Solidarity with the People of Asia, Africa, and Latin America (OSPAAAL) 77
- origins *see* evolution, of Pan-Africanism
- Osahon, Naiwu 226
- Osiris Rising* 390
- Ossome, Lyn 159–167, 347
- Otafire, Kahinda 226
- Ouédraogo, Josephine 338
- outlayers 90–91
- Outlet* 223
- Oxfam 109
- Padmore, George 38–39, 75, 199, 234, 294, 296, 297, 388
- Pan-African Network for the Defense of Migrants' Rights (PANiDMR) 109
- Pan-African Women's Organization (PAWO) 333
- Pan-Africanist Congress (PAC) 139, 321
- PANAFEST 506–507, 509, 510
- Pan-African Association (PAA) 218
- Pan-African Congresses 38–39, 48; and black women 40; and the Caribbean 223; decolonization 113–114, 117; and Europe 235–240; and W.E.B. Du Bois 191–200; women's role 260–268
- Pan-African Federation (PAF) 294
- Pan-African Film and Arts Festival (PAFF) 503
- Pan-African History* 375
- Pan-African Ideal in Literatures of the Black World, The* 394
- Pan-African Reconstruction Association (PARA) 75
- Pan-African Women's Liberation Organization (PAWLO) 335–336
- Pan-Africanism: A History* 69
- Pan-Africanism or Communism?* 199
- Pan-Africanism: The Idea and Movement, 1776–1991* 2, 191
- Pankhurst, Richard 284–285
- Pankhurst, Sylvia 280–284
- Pan-Negroism 189–191
- Paris Peace Conference (1919–1920) 236–237, 238
- Parliament (funk band) 483–486
- Passemiers, Lazlo 322–323
- Patterson, William 78

- Paulino, Eduardo 508
 peace 81–83
 Peace Information Center (PIC) 82
 People Against Suffering, Oppression and Poverty (PASSOP) 176
 People's Movement for the Liberation of Angola (MPLA) 317, 322
 People's Progressive Movement (PPM) 224
 Pereira, Jabu 346
 persecution 175–177
 philosophy, of Pan-Africanism 232–235, 373–375
 Pierre, Jemima 357
 Pino, Gerald 497
 Plaatje, Solomon Tshekisho 137
 PLZ (rap group) 509–510
Poem about Police Violence 53–54
 Pogrund, Benjamin 139, 141
 Poleykett, Branwyn 127–128
 political economy 57–58; imagining a renaissance 65–67; squandered opportunities for growth 62–65
 politics 48; of liberation 52–54; of race, recognition, and identity 49–51; of return 51–52; of unification 54–55; *see also* political economy
Politics of Race-Blindness, The 255–256
 population growth 64
 Portugal 37, 76–77
 poverty 64, 361
 Prazeros 126, 127
 private sector 63
 Protocol on the Establishment of a Peace and Security Council of the African Union (2002) 378
 Protocol on the Rights of Women in Africa (2003) 336

 Quakers 290
 queer African feminism 165–166
Queer African Reader 346

 Rabaka, Reiland 154–155, 187–203, 302–311
 Raboroko, Peter 139
 race, concept of 189–190, 202; racial affinity 232–233, 235–236; racial politics 49–51
 racism 49, 50, 189, 202–203; anti-blackness 357, 359; imperialism 71–72; white supremacy 233–234, 450–451; *see also* colonialism
 radicalism 70, 94; and black humanism 79–81, 363; twenty-first century 517, 519–523, 529; and W.E.B. Du Bois 200, 201
 Rahman, Ahmad 388–389
 Rainbow Nation 42
 Ramose, Magobe Bertrand 130, 131
 Rampersad, Arnold 201
 Ransome-Kuti, Funmilayo 333
 Rastafarian movement 220, 222, 226

 Ratcliff, Anthony 203, 394, 433–445
 Reagan, Ronald 83
 rebellions, urban 441–445
Reclaiming Afrika 346
 reconfiguring African states 530–533
 Reddy, Vasu 171–180
 Redmond, Eugene 395
Regime Change of Kwame Nkrumah, The 388–389
 religion 127, 174, 437; and black nationalism 94–95; and LGBTQI 349, 350–351; religious extremists 346–347
 reparations 192, 196, 226–227
 repatriation 217–218, 226
 restitution 53–54
 return, politics of 51–52, 505
 Revolutionary Action Movement (RAM) 435–437, 439
 revolutionary culture *see* black arts movement (BAM)
 revolutionary decolonization 303–305, 307
 revolutionary intercommunalism 72
 revolutionary transformation 71–72
 Rhodes Must Fall 50
 Rhodesia 224, 325–326; *see also* Zimbabwe
 Ricks, Willie 96
Rise of the African Novel, The 396
 Robeson, Paul 80, 82
 Robinson, Cedric 187, 195, 202
 Rockstone, Reggie 508–509, 510, 511
 Rodney, Walter 73, 97, 222
 Rodney Riots (1968) 222
 Rogers, J.A. 388, 419
 Rolin, Henri 113, 114
 Romero, Patricia 190
 Ropivia, Marc-Louis 531
 Roumain, Jacques 421–422, 427–429
 Roy-Campbell, Z. 39
 Rucker, Walter 199, 200–201
Rupert Gray 392–393
 Russia 202
 Rwanda 377, 473

 Sadaukai, Owusu 259
Same Love (Remix) 348–349
 Sandfort, T. 176
 Sankara, Thomas 50–51
 Savané, Marie-Angélique 339
 Scholes, Theophilus 218
 Schulz, D. 35
 Schuyler, George S. 387, 388–389
 Schwarz, A.B. Christa 388
 Scott, Johnnie 442
Season in the Congo, A 112, 117, 118, 422
 Seckinelgin, H. 173
 Second Boer War (1899–1902) 137
 Second Congo War (1998) 108
 Secovnie, Kelly O. 391

Index

- Segal, A. 106
 segregation 138
 Sekyi, Kobina 293
 Selassie, Haile 76, 220, 276, 283–284
 self-determination 73–74, 90–91, 92, 193, 444, 477
 Sembène, Ousmane 253
 Senegal 363
 Serequeberhan, Tsenay 304
 Sesanti, Simphiwe 449–461
 sexism 79–81, 263, 452–453
 Sexton, Jared 359
 sexuality *see* LGBTQI
 Sharpeville Massacre (1960) 82, 322
 Sharpton, Al 480
 Sheldon, Kathleen 330–340
 Shepard, Todd 113, 114
 Shepperson, George 232, 289
 Sherwood, Marika 200, 340, 375
 Shilliam, Robbie 116, 117
 Shonekan, Stephanie 496
 Sibisi, Charles 140
 Sierra Leone 290–291
 Sierra Leone Women's Movement (SLWM) 332–333
 Simeon-Jones, Kersuze 418–430
 Simmons, Diggy 505, 506
 singing 472
 Sir George Williams University 222
 slavery 36–37, 51; abolitionism 92, 290–292; and capitalism 277; in the Caribbean 216–217; legacy of 64; liberation from 52–53; and music 471; reparations 227
 Sly & the Family Stone 480–482
 Smith, Andrew W.M. 112–121
 Sobukwe, Robert 139, 141
 social movements: anti-colonialism to black consciousness 359–363; applicability to contentious politics 355–359; and structural adjustment 363–366
 socialism 38, 77–79, 202–203
 Soete, Gerard 118
 Soglo, Nicéphore 430
 Sojourners for Truth and Justice (STJ) 80
 Solanke, Lapido 294
 Somalia 374–375
Song of Fire 438, 442
 Sons of Africa 232
 Sori, Rahman 504
 SOS Racisme 255
Soulbook 439–440
Souls of Black Folk, The 193
 Sousa, Noémia de 339–340
 South Africa: Africanists (1940–1960) 138–139; anti-apartheid activity 82–83, 223–225; black consciousness confronts the state 141–142; early history 136–138; LGBTQI 174, 175, 178, 179, 349; liberation movements 321, 325, 326; open years (1968–1972) 139–141; post-apartheid problems 42; Soweto Uprising (1976) 142–143, 322
 South African Act (1909) 137
 South African Native National Congress (SANNC) 137; *see also* African National Congress (ANC)
 South African Students' Organisation (SASO) 140–142, 336
 Southeast Asia Treaty Organization (SEATO) 81
 southern Africa anti-colonialism 317–319; alliances among anti-colonial movements 324–326; contemporary Pan-Africanism 326–327; independent states and anti-colonial movements 319–324; *see also* South Africa
 Southern African Liberation Committee (SALC) 224–225
 Southern Christian Leadership Conference (SCLC) 95–96, 449
 Soweto Uprising (1976) 142–143, 322
 Soyinka, Wole 390, 397
 Space Research Corporation 224
 spirituality 174, 473–474
 Srivastava, Neelam 388
 Stevens, Margaret 69
 Stewart, Maria 504
 Stewart, Sylvester *see* Sly & the Family Stone
 Stockholm Peace Appeal (1950) 82
 structural adjustment 363–366
 student movements 362–363
 Student Nonviolent Coordinating Committee (SNCC) 95–96, 259, 260
 Sundiata Keita legend 401–402, 411–415; similarities with Chaka Zulu 408–411
 superexploitation 77–78
Survey, The 236
 Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) 179
 Sutherland, Efua Theodora 340
 Suttner, Raymond 130–131
 Sylvanus, Benito 218
 Tabon people 51
 Taiwo, Olufemi 302
 Talented Tenth 193–194
 Tankeu, Elisabeth 336
 Tanzania 322, 325, 363
 Tate, Florence 259
 Temple, Christel N. 387–397, 402
 Temple Circle of Afrocentrists 148
 Temple University 150, 156
 theatre 422–423
 Thiong'o, Ngũgĩ wa 37, 347, 349, 396
 Thomas, Scott 325
 Thompson, Louise 79
 Thorne, Albert 218
 Tieku, Thomas 374

- Ties That Bind, The* 193
 Tillotson, Michael 152, 154
Times, The 113
Tintin au Congo 117
 Tiro, Abram Onkgopotse 141, 142
To the Nations of the World 192–193
 Tomlinson, Lisa 390–391
 Touré, Askia 435, 437–439, 442
 Touré, Sekou 101, 105–106, 110, 117, 297, 321
Towards Colonial Freedom 296
Tragedy of King Christophe, The 423
Transcendence and the Africana Literary Enterprise 391
 transformative education 519–523
 transvaluation of values 309–310
 Treaty of Versailles (1919) 236
 Tricontinental Conference (1966) 76, 77
 Trinidad and Tobago 219, 221, 222, 225
 Troupe, Quincy 442
 Trout, Paulette J. 387
 Tshaka, Rothney 129
 Tshisekedi, Felix 108
 Turner, Henry McNeal 51
 Turner, Nat 92
 Tutu, Desmond 42, 350
 twenty-first century, relevance in 517–519,
 533–534; transformative education for radical
 Pan-Africanism 519–523
 Ubuntu 42
 Uganda 177, 226, 348
Un Saison au Congo 115
UnAfrican Americans 190
Understanding an Afrocentric World View 149
 UNESCO (United Nations Educational, Scientific
 and Cultural Organization) 278
 unification 54–55
 Union Government of Africa (UGA) 378
 United Nations (UN): and African National
 Congress (ANC) 138; apartheid 82;
 Commission on Human Rights 80;
 conventional diplomatic procedures 374–375;
 Economic Commission for Africa 528–529,
 533; Ethiopia-Eritrea issue 281; exploitation of
 black labor 78; as feminist site 337–338;
 founding conference 279; International Decade
 for People of African Descent 50; New
 International Economic Order (NIEO) 238;
 Rwanda genocide 377; UNESCO (United
 Nations Educational, Scientific and Cultural
 Organization) 278; Working Group of Experts
 on People of African Descent 120
 United States of America (USA): black nationalism
 90, 91–99; exploitation of black labor 77–78;
 LGBTQI 350; and revolutionary
 intercommunalism 72; slavery 37, 53; urban
 rebellions 441–442; white supremacy 75,
 450–451; *see also* diaspora, African
 Unity and Struggle 302
 Universal League for the Defense of the Black
 Race (LUDRN) 250–251, 294–295
 Universal Negro Improvement Association
 (UNIA) 49, 51, 93, 94, 218–220, 294–295,
 331, 420
 universities, role of 40–41
 University Christian Movement (UCM) 139–140
 University of Fort Hare 137
 University of Natal 140
 urban rebellions 441–445
 Valletta Action Plan (2015) 107, 109
 values, transvaluation of 309–310
 van Kessel, Ineke 355, 356
 Veal, Michael 480, 491, 495, 500
 Vermeyden, Anne 127
 Vincent, Rickey 476–487
 Vinson, Robert Trent 137–138
Voice of Ethiopia 278–279
 Wainaina, Binyavanga 346–347, 350
 Walker, Clarence E. 156
 Walker, David 91–92, 504–505
 Wallace-Johnson, I.T.A. 295, 332
 Ward, Stuart 114
 Warsaw Pact (1955–1991) 81
Washington Post 49
 Watts, Michael 365
 Watts Rebellion (1965) 441
We Charge Genocide 78
W.E.B. Du Bois: Black Radical Democrat 194
 Wesley, Fred 479
 West, Cornel 484
 West Africa 289–290; abolitionism and early
 Pan-African thinkers 290–292; and Kwame
 Nkrumah 295–299
West African Countries and People 292
 West African National Secretariat (WANS) 296
 West African Observatory on Migrations
 (WAOM) 109
 West African Students' Union (WASU) 294, 296
 West African Youth League (WAYL) 295, 332
 West Indies 71, 225
 Westphalian sovereignty 101
 Wheel, M. 175
 White, Maurice 482–483
 White, Walter 279, 280
White King, Red Rubber, Black Death 118
 white supremacy *see* racism
 Wilder, Gary 114–115
 Wilderson, Frank 358–359
 Wilkerson, Doxey 78
 Wilkins, Fanon Che 260
 Williams, Henry Sylvester 38, 48, 93, 192, 218
 Wilson, Edie 261–262
 Wilson, Woodrow 113

Index

- Windom, Alice 457–458
Women as Partners for Peace in Africa (WOPPA) 339
Women's International Circle for Peace and Foreign Relations 198
women's role 39–40, 258; African women in the early twentieth century 330–333; African women in the mid-twentieth century 333–335; African women in the twenty-first century 335–337, 366; anti-sexism 79–81; black music 495–496; black power era 259–260; peace-building, education, and culture 339–340; Sixth Pan-African Congress 260–268; and United Nations (UN) 337–338; and women's studies 338–339; *see also* feminism, African
Wonder, Stevie 510
World and Africa, The 198
World Bank 42, 364
World War I (1914–1918) 94, 360
World War II (1939–1945) 115
Worldview Analysis Scale (WAS) 391
Worrell, Rodney 216–227
Wretched of the Earth, The 101, 252, 302, 305, 307, 308, 380
Wright, Richard 74, 254
Wynter, Sylvia 358
X-Clan 486
Yaoundé Conventions (1963–1975) 106, 110
Yogyakarta Principles 178
Yoruba people 162
Zabus, C. 172, 173
Zaki, Hoda 250
Zambia 323, 324, 325, 364
Zhang Juguang 202
Zimbabwe 322, 325–326, 327, 374; *see also* Rhodesia
Zimbabwe African National Union (ZANU) 317, 322, 324–325
Zimbabwe African People's Union (ZAPU) 317, 322, 324, 325
Zulu Kingdom 137, 404